PART THREE | AN EXPANDING NATION

UNIT 3
AN EXPANDING NATION

Chapters 8, 9, 10, 11, and 12 · 1790–1860

Secondary Source Reader

Historical scholarship for History B17A

INCLUDED	518 transcribed selections from 231 supplied monographs, including 14 relevant additional works.
SOURCE TEXT	Reflowed excerpts from the supplied editions, with historians' note calls and recoverable corresponding notes.
CITATIONS	Chicago Notes and Bibliography; original book locators where fixed pagination is available.

Prepared from the supplied editions.

Reader's Guide

Selections are grouped by textbook chapter. The eyebrow identifies the secondary-source ID; the main heading is the title of the source itself.

Citing These Readings

Use the full footnote citation for the first reference to a book and the shortened form thereafter, including when you cite a different selection from that book.

Cite the original book pages shown in the source locator. Reader page numbers are navigation aids, not original source pages.

Superscript numbers belong to the historian. Create your own footnote numbering for your paper.

If a historian quotes a primary source, identify that relationship with a “quoted in” citation unless you have consulted the original source yourself.

Include only the works you actually use in your bibliography.

Contents

Chapter 8 · The Emergence of a Market Economy

S8.01	The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism Allan Kulikoff · The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism	29
S8.02	The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression Andrew H. Browning · hapter Two. Three Revolutions: Market, Transportation, Corporation	31
S8.03	The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862 Carol Sheriff · The Artificial River	33
S8.04	The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860 Christopher Clark · ntroduction H	34
S8.05	The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good John Lauritz Larson · The Market Revolution in America	36
S8.06	The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880 Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds. · NTRODUCTION	38
S8.07	The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860 Morton J. Horwitz · ustom and Contract	40
S8.08	Empire of Cotton: A Global History Sven Beckert · ntroduction	42
S8.09	The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860 Christopher Clark · nterpreting Rural Economic Change	44
S8.10	The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880 Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds. · ntroduction	46
S8.11	The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution Charles R. Morris · THE DAWN OF INNOVATION	48
S8.12	The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840 Daniel Feller · The Year of Jubilee	50

S8.13	The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860 George Rogers Taylor · THE TRANSPORTATION REVOLUTION	52
S8.14	Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse Richard R. John · The Postal System as an Agent of Change	53
S8.15	The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862 Carol Sheriff · sions of Progress	55
S8.16	Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890 Carter Goodrich · GAT,LATIN'SPROPOSALSAND ACTUAL CONSTRUCTION	57
S8.17	A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic Donald R. Kennon, ed. · The Capital and the State	59
S8.18	The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860 George Rogers Taylor · THE CANAL ERA	60
S8.19	Bond of Union: Building the Erie Canal and the American Empire Gerard Koeppel · Erie Rise and Fall	61
S8.20	Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States John Lauritz Larson · THE PROBLEMS WITH STATE INITIATIVES	62
S8.21	A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War John Majewski · Urban Capital and Pennsylvania's Transportation Network 1	64
S8.22	Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860 Louis Hartz · THE PUBLIC WORKS	66
S8.23	Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861 Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin · OMMONWEALTH	67
S8.24	The Visible Hand: The Managerial Revolution in American Business Alfred D. Chandler Jr. · ok1	69
S8.25	The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution Charles R. Morris · THE DAWN OF INNOVATION	71
S8.26	Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819 Francis N. Stites · Blasted Hopes	73
S8.27	The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860 George Rogers Taylor · RAILROADS	75
S8.28	The Great Road: The Building of the Baltimore and Ohio, the Nation's First Railroad, 1828–1853 James D. Dilts · Prologue	77
S8.29	Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States James Willard Hurst · aw and the Conditions of Freedom	79
S8.30	A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War John Majewski · Railroads and Local Development	81
S8.31	Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made Robert F. Dalzell Jr. · Perfecting the Immense Machine	83
S8.32	Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic Thomas H. Cox · fine the play of economic energy."2	85

S8.33	A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America Brian Balogh · “To Strengthen and Perpetuate that Union”	87
S8.34	Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890 Carter Goodrich · PUBLIC PROMOTION	89
S8.35	The Tariff History of the United States F. W. Taussig · How Duties were Raised above	91
S8.36	Roads, Rails & Waterways: The Army Engineers and Early Transportation Forest G. Hill · ROADS, RAILS, AND WATERWAYS	93
S8.37	The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860 George Rogers Taylor · ROADS AND BRIDGES	95
S8.38	Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America Harry L. Watson · NTRODUCTION	97
S8.39	Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States John Lauritz Larson · SPOILING INTERNAL IMPROVEMENTS	99
S8.40	Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse Richard R. John · The Postal System as an Agent of Change	101
S8.41	Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850 David A. Zonderman · Aspirations and Anxieties	103
S8.42	Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860 Thomas Dublin · hapter Five. The Boardinghouse	105
S8.43	Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850 David A. Zonderman · Aspirations and Anxieties	106
S8.44	The Factory Girls: A Collection of Writings on Life and Struggles in the New England Factories of the 1840's Philip S. Foner, ed. · The Factory Girls	108
S8.45	Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England Teresa Anne Murphy · abor Reform in the Thirties	110
S8.46	Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860 Thomas Dublin · hapter Seven. The Ten Hour Movement: The 1840s	112
S8.47	Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution Anthony F. C. Wallace · The Evangelical Counterattack	114
S8.48	Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made Robert F. Dalzell Jr. · Editor's Introduction	116
S8.49	Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn Alan Dawley · Excerpt from the supplied edition	118
S8.50	The Age of Jackson Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. · THE AGE OF JACKSON	120
S8.51	Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850 Bruce Laurie · Radicals: Thomas Paine's Progeny	121

S8.52	Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement Edward Pessen · The Leaders	122
S8.53	Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850 Sean Wilentz · The Boundaries of Class	124
S8.54	Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution Anthony F. C. Wallace · The Evangelical Counterattack	126
S8.55	Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850 Bruce Laurie · "We Are All Day Laborers"	128
S8.56	The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol Eric Burns · The Father of Prohibition and Other Kinfolk	130
S8.57	Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865 Mary P. Ryan · radle of the middle class	131
S8.58	A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837 Paul E. Johnson · A SHOPKEEPER'S MILLENNIUM	132
S8.59	Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England Teresa Anne Murphy · ntroduction	133
S8.60	Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850 Bruce Laurie · Workers at Bay	135
S8.61	The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War Bruce Levine · ntroduction	136
S8.62	City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860 Christine Stansell · ty of Women, pp. 044-046	138
S8.63	The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class David R. Roediger · ON AUTOBIOGRAPHY AND THEORY	140
S8.64	Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers Graham Russell Gao Hodges · "Desirable Companions	141
S8.65	The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict Michael Feldberg · JACKSONIAN PHILADELPHIA	143
S8.66	The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America Michael Feldberg · THE TURBULENT ERA	145
S8.67	How the Irish Became White Noel Ignatiev · AFTERWORD	146
S8.68	Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore Seth Rockman · Scraping By	148
S8.69	Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850 Bruce Laurie · "The Uses of Adversity"	149
S8.70	Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America Kerby A. Miller · Excerpt from the supplied edition	150
S8.71	The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict Michael Feldberg · The Nativists	151

S8.72	The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America Michael Feldberg · THE TURBULENT ERA	153
S8.73	Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834 Nancy Lusignan Schultz · THE VINE UPROOTED	155
S8.74	The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism Ray Allen Billington · The Flames Spread	157
S8.75	Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s Tyler Anbinder · The Ideology of the Know Nothing Party	159
S8.76	Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850 Bruce Laurie · The Sources of Industrial Diversity	161
S8.77	The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War Bruce Levine · grants and Industry in America	162
S8.78	The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement John R. Mulkern · Excerpt from the supplied edition	164
S8.79	Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America Kerby A. Miller · The Post-Famine Emigrants in America, 1870-1921	165
S8.80	The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict Michael Feldberg · THE NATIVISTS	167
S8.81	Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834 Nancy Lusignan Schultz · FIRE AND ROSES	169
S8.82	How the Irish Became White Noel Ignatiev · f- HOW THE IRISH BECAME WHITE	170
S8.83	Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War Eric Foner · The Republicans and Nativism	172
S8.84	The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement John R. Mulkern · ark-Lantern Politics and the Know-Nothing Triumph	174
S8.85	The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War Michael F. Holt · Harrison and Prosperity or Van Buren and Ruin”	176
S8.86	Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s Tyler Anbinder · INTRODUCTION	179

Chapter 9 · Nationalism and Sectionalism

S9.01	The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law Charles F. Hobson · hapter One	181
S9.02	The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck Charles F. Hobson · SEey	183
S9.03	The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35 G. Edward White · The Raising II	185
S9.04	John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland Gerald Gunther, ed. · ntroduction	187
S9.05	M'Culloch v. Maryland: Securing a Nation Mark R. Killenbeck · tellingly, Marshall’s strong Federalist philosophy, which he was now	188

S9.06	John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court R. Kent Newmyer · onstitutional Law for a New Nation	190
S9.07	Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic Thomas H. Cox · Excerpt from the supplied edition	192
S9.08	The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law Charles F. Hobson · Property Rights and the Contract Clause	193
S9.09	The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck Charles F. Hobson · paired the obligation of contract and was void under the contract	195
S9.10	Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819 Francis N. Stites · onclusions	197
S9.11	The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35 G. Edward White · ANTECEDENTS AND BEGINNINGS TO I8OI	199
S9.12	Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States James Willard Hurst · The Balance of Power	200
S9.13	The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860 Morton J. Horwitz · Competition and Economic Development	202
S9.14	Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861 Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin · SOCIAL DISORGANIZATION	204
S9.15	John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court R. Kent Newmyer · Republican Judge as Lockean Liberal	206
S9.16	Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made Robert F. Dalzell Jr. · Transportation, Banking, and Insurance	208
S9.17	Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic Thomas H. Cox · enterprise, even under the authority of legislative sanction."78	210
S9.18	Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819 Francis N. Stites · Private Interest & Public Gain	212
S9.19	John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland Gerald Gunther, ed. · ntroduction	213
S9.20	Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic Daniel Peart · ntroduction	214
S9.21	A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic Donald R. Kennon, ed. · "Conglomerate Rock"	216
S9.22	The Era of Good Feelings George Dangerfield · POSTSCRIPT: "AVE ATQUE VALE"	218
S9.23	Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States John Lauritz Larson · SPOILING INTERNAL IMPROVEMENTS	220
S9.24	The Presidency of James Monroe Noble E. Cunningham Jr. · The New President and a New Congress	222
S9.25	The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression Andrew H. Browning · ntroduction	224

S9.26	The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race Donald J. Ratcliffe · Popular Battlegrounds	226
S9.27	The Era of Good Feelings George Dangerfield · FINALE	228
S9.28	The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821 Glover Moore · THE MISSOURI CONTROVERSY	230
S9.29	The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good John Lauritz Larson · Panic! 2008, Déja vu 'All over Again	231
S9.30	Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821 John R. Van Atta · passe	233
S9.31	The Panic of 1819: Reactions and Policies Murray N. Rothbard · The Panic and Its Genesis: Fluctuations in American Business, 1815–21	235
S9.32	The Presidency of James Monroe Noble E. Cunningham Jr. · The Missouri Compromise	237
S9.33	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · SLAVERY, COMPROMISE, AND DEMOCRATIC POLITICS	239
S9.34	Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds. · ntroduction	241
S9.35	Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic Daniel Peart · onclusion	244
S9.36	Martin Van Buren and the American Political System Donald B. Cole · New York Politician 1782-1821	246
S9.37	The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race Donald J. Ratcliffe · The Virginia Candidate	248
S9.38	The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois Gerald Leonard · nois and the nation	250
S9.39	"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic Jeffrey L. Pasley · Newspapers and Nineteenth-Century Politics	252
S9.40	The Presidency of James Monroe Noble E. Cunningham Jr. · The Election of a President	254
S9.41	The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era Richard P. McCormick · Excerpt from the supplied edition	256
S9.42	Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party Robert V. Remini · The Making of the Democratic Party	257
S9.43	Martin Van Buren Ted Widmer · Excerpt from the supplied edition	259
S9.44	Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West John Craig Hammond · Excerpt from the supplied edition	260
S9.45	Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds. · "Uncontrollable Necessity"	262

S9.46	Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821 John R. Van Atta · Wolf by the Ears	264
S9.47	Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic Matthew Mason · THE MISSOURI CRISIS	266
S9.48	Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America Padraig Riley · hapter 6. Democracy in Crisis	268
S9.49	No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding Sean Wilentz · TO THE MISSOURI CRISIS	270
S9.50	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY	272
S9.51	The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery Don E. Fehrenbacher · O slavery and the founding of the republic	274
S9.52	The Era of Good Feelings George Dangerfield · THE POLITICS OF SLAVERY	276
S9.53	The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821 Glover Moore · EMOCRACY AND STATE RIGHTS	278
S9.54	Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds. · John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason	279
S9.55	Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821 John R. Van Atta · Wolf by the Ears	281
S9.56	The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860 Leonard L. Richards · The Slave Power	283
S9.57	Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic Matthew Mason · THE MISSOURI CRISIS	285
S9.58	Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America Padraig Riley · ntroduction. North of Jefferson	287
S9.59	The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery Don E. Fehrenbacher · O the slaveholding republic	289
S9.60	Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President James C. Klotter · Excerpt from the supplied edition	291
S9.61	Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds. · John Craig Hammond	293
S9.62	Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821 John R. Van Atta · prolegue	295
S9.63	No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding Sean Wilentz · TO THE MISSOURI CRISIS	297
S9.64	The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830 Arthur Preston Whitaker · THE UNITED STATES AND LATIN AMERICA	299
S9.65	Our Sister Republics: The United States in an Age of American Revolutions Caitlin Fitz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	301

S9.66	The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826 Dexter Perkins · THE WARNING TO EUROPE	303
S9.67	The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830 Arthur Preston Whitaker · ""PEACE IN OUR TIME"	305
S9.68	Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World Charles A. Kupchan · Excerpt from the supplied edition	306
S9.69	Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic Charles N. Edel · Excerpt from the supplied edition	308
S9.70	The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826 Dexter Perkins · THE MONROE DOCTRINE	310
S9.71	The Era of Good Feelings George Dangerfield · THE DIPLOMACY OF COAL AND IRON	312
S9.72	The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America Jay Sexton · The Monroe Doctrine	314
S9.73	The Presidency of James Monroe Noble E. Cunningham Jr. · The Monroe Doctrine	316
S9.74	John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy Samuel Flagg Bemis · John Quincy Adams	318
S9.75	John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire William Earl Weeks · Adams and American Global Empire	320
S9.76	The Making of the Monroe Doctrine Ernest R. May · Implications	322
S9.77	Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World Charles A. Kupchan · Excerpt from the supplied edition	324
S9.78	Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic Charles N. Edel · ntroduction	326
S9.79	The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America Jay Sexton · The Monroe Doctrine	328
S9.80	John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire William Earl Weeks · NTRODUCTION	330
S9.81	The Age of Jackson Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. · BEGINNINGS OF THE BANK WAR	331
S9.82	The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race Donald J. Ratcliffe · The Corrupt Bargain	332
S9.83	The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era Richard P. McCormick · Excerpt from the supplied edition	334
S9.84	The Election of Andrew Jackson Robert V. Remini · THE ELECTION OF ANDREW JACKSON	336
S9.85	Andrew Jackson Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	338

S9.86	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · JEFFERSON'S TW O PRESIDENCIES	340
S9.87	Martin Van Buren and the American Political System Donald B. Cole · National Politician 1821-1829	343
S9.88	The Presidency of Andrew Jackson Donald B. Cole · A Jackson Victory	345
S9.89	The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois Gerald Leonard · the antiparty constitutional tradition	347
S9.90	"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic Jeffrey L. Pasley · o i Newspapers and Nineteenth-Century Politics	349
S9.91	The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828 Lynn Hudson Parsons · THE BIRTH OF MODERN POLITICS	351
S9.92	The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era Richard P. McCormick · Excerpt from the supplied edition	352
S9.93	Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse Richard R. John · The Wellspring of Democracy	354
S9.94	Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party Robert V. Remini · The Making of the Democratic Party	356
S9.95	Martin Van Buren Ted Widmer · Excerpt from the supplied edition	358
S9.96	The Passions of Andrew Jackson Andrew Burstein · THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON	359
S9.97	The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828 Lynn Hudson Parsons · Excerpt from the supplied edition	361
S9.98	The Election of Andrew Jackson Robert V. Remini · STRUCTURING A NATIONAL PARTY en	362
S9.99	Andrew Jackson Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	363

Chapter 10 · The Jacksonian Era

S10.01	The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States Alexander Keyssar · emocracy Ascendant	365
S10.02	The Age of Jackson Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. · THE AGE OF JACKSON	367
S10.03	The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840 Daniel Feller · THE JACKSONIAN PROMISE	368
S10.04	Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson David S. Reynolds · Forginga National Identity	370
S10.05	Martin Van Buren and the American Political System Donald B. Cole · New York Politician 1782-1821	372

S10.06	Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America Harry L. Watson · National Parties and Local Politics	374
S10.07	The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828 Lynn Hudson Parsons · hapter Two	376
S10.08	The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era Richard P. McCormick · Excerpt from the supplied edition	378
S10.09	Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850 Sean Wilentz · ntroduction: Stollenwerck's Panorama, 1815	380
S10.10	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY	382
S10.11	The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States Alexander Keyssar · The Right to Vote	384
S10.12	The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America Alexander Saxton · The Rise and Fall of the White Republic	386
S10.13	Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory Claudio Saunt · UNWORTHY REPUBLIC	388
S10.14	The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class David R. Roediger · IITE SLAVES, WAGE SLAVES AND FREE \VHITE LABOR	390
S10.15	Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers Graham Russell Gao Hodges · HAPTER	391
S10.16	Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction Kate Masur · The Liberty Party and Repeal of the Ohio Black Laws in the 1840s	393
S10.17	Andrew Jackson, Southerner Mark R. Cheathem · “We Will Destroy Our Enemies”	395
S10.18	Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America Padraig Riley · hapter 2. Philadelphia, Crossroads of Democracy	397
S10.19	Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom Tiya Miles · Excerpt from the supplied edition	399
S10.20	Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War Bray Hammond · Excerpt from the supplied edition	401
S10.21	The Political Culture of the American Whigs Daniel Walker Howe · hapter Two :	402
S10.22	Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement Edward Pessen · Social Philosophies and Beliefs	403
S10.23	Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America Harry L. Watson · NTRODUCTION	405
S10.24	Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America Harry L. Watson · BERTY AND POWER	407
S10.25	The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It Richard Hofstadter · Andrew Jackson and the Rise of Liberal Capitalism 7	409

S10.26	Clashing over Commerce: A History of US Trade Policy Douglas A. Irwin · hapter three	410
S10.27	The Tariff History of the United States F. W. Taussig · hapter III The Tariff, 1830-1860	412
S10.28	The Tariff History of the United States F. W. Taussig · The Tariff-1830-1860 • 109-154	413
S10.29	Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833 Merrill D. Peterson · Olive Branch and Sword	414
S10.30	Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836 William W. Freehling · QUALIFIED NATIONALISM TO QUALIFIED SECTIONALISM	415
S10.31	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South Lacy K. Ford · ntroduction	417
S10.32	The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860 Leonard L. Richards · Bucktails into Doughfaces	419
S10.33	The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina Manisha Sinha · was the tendency of a northern-dominated federal government to inter	421
S10.34	Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836 William W. Freehling · I THE EMERGENCE OF A THEORY	422
S10.35	Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833 Merrill D. Peterson · Matrix	424
S10.36	The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun Merrill D. Peterson · EPILOGUE	426
S10.37	The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis Richard E. Ellis · The Nullification Crisis and Jacksonian Democracy	427
S10.38	Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time Robert V. Remini · The Webster-Hayne Debate	429
S10.39	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY	430
S10.40	Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836 William W. Freehling · TARIFF AND THE INDIRECT DEFENSE OF SLAVERY	433
S10.41	The Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians Francis Paul Prucha · Emigration of the Southern Tribes	434
S10.42	Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation John Ehle · TRAIL OF TEARS	436
S10.43	Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian Michael Paul Rogin · HAPTER	438
S10.44	Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars Robert V. Remini · The Indian Removal Act	440
S10.45	American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era Ronald N. Satz · American Indian Policy86	441

S10.46	Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War A. J. Langguth · AJOR RIDGE (1825)	443
S10.47	The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians Anthony F. C. Wallace · THE LONG, BITTER TRAIL	445
S10.48	Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South Barbara Krauthamer · Ed Bailey, formerly	447
S10.49	African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens Celia E. Naylor · ntroduction	449
S10.50	Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory Claudio Saunt · UNWORTHY REPUBLIC	451
S10.51	The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism Edward E. Baptist · ntroduction: The Heart, 1937	453
S10.52	The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty Jill Norgren · hapter l	455
S10.53	Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation John Ehle · highs eee se ea —— ee	457
S10.54	Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian Michael Paul Rogin · FATHERS AND. CHILDREN	459
S10.55	American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era Ronald N. Satz · American Indian Policy	460
S10.56	Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab Steve Inskeep · Ten: Let Me See You as I Pass	462
S10.57	How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier Stuart Banner · How the Indians Lost Their Land	464
S10.58	The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green · INDIAN REMOVAL POLICY	466
S10.59	Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom Tiya Miles · Excerpt from the supplied edition	468
S10.60	Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War A. J. Langguth · RIVEN WEST	470
S10.61	Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory Claudio Saunt · UNWORTHY REPUBLIC	471
S10.62	Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes Gerard N. Magliocca · hapter Three	473
S10.63	The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty Jill Norgren · The Test of Cherokee Legal Rights Begins	474
S10.64	Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation John Ehle · The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation	476
S10.65	The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis Richard E. Ellis · Andrew Jackson, States' Rights, and Majority Rule	477

S10.66	Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab Steve Inskeep · Twenty-five: Executive	479
S10.67	How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier Stuart Banner · How the Indians Lost Their Land	481
S10.68	The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green · RESISTING REMOVAL	483
S10.69	The Legal Ideology of Removal: The Southern Judiciary and the Sovereignty of Native American Nations Tim Alan Garrison · ntroduction	485
S10.70	Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War Bray Hammond · Excerpt from the supplied edition	487
S10.71	The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis Jessica M. Lepler · hapter 1 A Very “Gamblous” Affair	489
S10.72	The Age of Jackson Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. · ni TRADITIONS OF DEMOC	491
S10.73	Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America Harry L. Watson · The Great Body of the People	492
S10.74	The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War Michael F. Holt · We Have Many Recruits in Our Ranks from the Pressure of the Times”	494
S10.75	Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power Robert V. Remini · n Retrospect	496
S10.76	Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850 Sean Wilentz · Strikes and Politics	497
S10.77	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY	499
S10.78	America's First Great Depression: Economic Crisis and Political Disorder after the Panic of 1837 Alasdair Roberts · The bubble	501
S10.79	The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis Jessica M. Lepler · hapter 7 States of Suspense	503
S10.80	The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good John Lauritz Larson · arvelous Improvements Everywhere	505
S10.81	The Jacksonian Economy Peter Temin · Excerpt from the supplied edition	506
S10.82	Martin Van Buren Ted Widmer · Excerpt from the supplied edition	508
S10.83	The Age of Jackson Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. · THE AGE OF JACKSON	510
S10.84	A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America Brian Balogh · Outside the Boundaries	511
S10.85	The Presidency of Andrew Jackson Donald B. Cole · Defending the Union	513

S10.86	Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes Gerard N. Magliocca · hapter Four	515
S10.87	Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America Harry L. Watson · FOUR MORE YEARS	516
S10.88	Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America Harry L. Watson · BERTY AND POWER	517
S10.89	American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House Jon Meacham · With the Feelings of a Father * xvii	519
S10.90	The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis Richard E. Ellis · Virginia and the Nullification Crisis	520
S10.91	Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars Robert V. Remini · Andrew Jackson and His Indian Wars	522
S10.92	Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power Robert V. Remini · Andrew Jackson and the Bank War	524
S10.93	Andrew Jackson Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	526
S10.94	The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	528
S10.95	The Passions of Andrew Jackson Andrew Burstein · THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON	530
S10.96	The Political Culture of the American Whigs Daniel Walker Howe · hapter Four :	532
S10.97	The Presidency of Andrew Jackson Donald B. Cole · An Ambivalent Presidency	534
S10.98	Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes Gerard N. Magliocca · Presidential Reconstruction	536
S10.99	Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America Harry L. Watson · FOUR MORE YEARS	538
S10.100	Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President James C. Klotter · Excerpt from the supplied edition	539
S10.101	Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States John Lauritz Larson · A NATIONAL REPUBLICAN ALTERNATIVE	541
S10.102	The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun Merrill D. Peterson · TYLER TOO ors	543
S10.103	The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War Michael F. Holt · To Rescue the Government and Public Liberty”	544
S10.104	The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis Richard E. Ellis · "The Compromise"	546
S10.105	Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power Robert V. Remini · The War Begins	548

S10.106	Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time Robert V. Remini · The Whig Party 41	550
S10.107	Andrew Jackson Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	551
S10.108	The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America Alexander Saxton · ntroduction	553
S10.109	The Passions of Andrew Jackson Andrew Burstein · THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON	554
S10.110	The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians Anthony F. C. Wallace · THE REMOVAL ACT	555
S10.111	Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South Barbara Krauthamer · self-governance in racialized and often racist language	557
S10.112	African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens Celia E. Naylor · On the Run	558
S10.113	Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory Claudio Saunt · INTRODUCTION	559
S10.114	American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House Jon Meacham · Not One Would Have Ever Got Out Alive	561
S10.115	Andrew Jackson, Southerner Mark R. Cheathem · ntroduction	562
S10.116	Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian Michael Paul Rogin · Excerpt from the supplied edition	564
S10.117	Andrew Jackson Sean Wilentz · Excerpt from the supplied edition	565
S10.118	Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab Steve Inskeep · Twenty-four: Judicial	567

Chapter 11 · The Peculiar Institution

S11.01	The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860 Calvin Schermerhorn · onclusion	569
S11.02	Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War David L. Lightner · Excerpt from the supplied edition	571
S11.03	The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism Edward E. Baptist · Excerpt from the supplied edition	572
S11.04	The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders James Oakes · The Slaveholders' Pilgrimage	574
S11.05	The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America Joshua D. Rothman · NTRODUCTION	575

S11.06	Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman · SLAVERY IN THE CITIES	577
S11.07	Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore Seth Rockman · ntroduction	579
S11.08	Empire of Cotton: A Global History Sven Beckert · hapter 6: Industrial Capitalism Takes Wing	581
S11.09	Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds. · hapter 1: Towards a Political Economy of Slave Labor	583
S11.10	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom Walter Johnson · ntroduction: Boom	586
S11.11	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market Walter Johnson · NTR ODUCTION: A PER S ON WITH A PR ICE	588
S11.12	Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South Elizabeth Fox-Genovese · Southern Women, Southern Households	590
S11.13	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made Eugene D. Genovese · PART I OF THE WILLING AND THE OBEDIENT	592
S11.14	The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South Eugene D. Genovese · ntroduction	594
S11.15	The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860 Eugene D. Genovese · ntroduction	596
S11.16	The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South Eugene D. Genovese · THE SETTING	598
S11.17	A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss · A Deplorable Scarcity	600
S11.18	A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War John Majewski · ntroduction	602
S11.19	Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South Keri Leigh Merritt · ntroduction: The Second Degree of Slavery	604
S11.20	Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds. · hapter 14: Why Did Northerners Oppose the Expansion of Slavery?	606
S11.21	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom Walter Johnson · Excerpt from the supplied edition	608
S11.22	Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South Bertram Wyatt-Brown · Excerpt from the supplied edition	610
S11.23	Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi Charles C. Bolton · Excerpt from the supplied edition	612
S11.24	The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914 George M. Fredrickson · Excerpt from the supplied edition	614
S11.25	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands J. William Harris · THE CAPTIVES SET FREE	615

S11.26	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South Lacy K. Ford · ntroduction	617
S11.27	Plain Folk of the Old South Frank Lawrence Owsley · PLAIN FOLK OF THE OLD SOUTH	619
S11.28	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands J. William Harris · NTRODUCTION	620
S11.29	The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders James Oakes · aster-class Pluralism	622
S11.30	Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South Bertram Wyatt-Brown · Excerpt from the supplied edition	624
S11.31	Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South Elizabeth Fox-Genovese · Southern Women, Southern Households	626
S11.32	Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country Stephanie McCurry · Excerpt from the supplied edition	628
S11.33	Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi Charles C. Bolton · Epilogue: Poor Whites and the "New South"	630
S11.34	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands J. William Harris · N THE MIST OF A REVOLUTION	632
S11.35	Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South Keri Leigh Merritt · ntroduction: The Second Degree of Slavery	634
S11.36	Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic Erskine Clarke · The Promised Land	636
S11.37	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made Eugene D. Genovese · A DUTY AND A BURDEN	637
S11.38	The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860 Eugene D. Genovese · The Dilemma	638
S11.39	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South Lacy K. Ford · The Ideological Reconfiguration of Slavery in the Lower South	640
S11.40	Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South Michael Tadman · Part Two: Slave Trading and the Values of Masters and Slaves	642
S11.41	American Slavery, 1619-1877 Peter Kolchin · Antebellum Slavery: Organization, Control, Paternalism	643
S11.42	Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South Barbara Krauthamer · Excerpt from the supplied edition	645
S11.43	The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860 Calvin Schermerhorn · ntroduction	647
S11.44	Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War David L. Lightner · Excerpt from the supplied edition	649

S11.45	Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South Deborah Gray White · Revisiting Aren't Ia Woman?	651
S11.46	The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism Edward E. Baptist · Excerpt from the supplied edition	653
S11.47	The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America Joshua D. Rothman · SSOLUTIONS, 1833-1837	655
S11.48	Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South Michael Tadman · The Scale of Negro Speculation	657
S11.49	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers · SIX: “That ’Oman Took Delight in Sellin’ Slaves”	659
S11.50	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom Walter Johnson · Excerpt from the supplied edition	661
S11.51	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market Walter Johnson · E PILOGUE : S OUTHERN HI S T ORY AND THE S LAVE TRADE	663
S11.52	Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic Erskine Clarke · Princeton	665
S11.53	Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves Ira Berlin · prologue : slaveryandfreedom	667
S11.54	Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America Ira Berlin · Prologue: Making Slavery, Making Race	669
S11.55	The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South John W. Blassingame · The Americanization of the	671
S11.56	American Slavery, 1619-1877 Peter Kolchin · Origins and Consolidation	673
S11.57	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South Stephanie M. H. Camp · ntroduction	675
S11.58	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market Walter Johnson · S OUL BY S OUL	677
S11.59	Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South Bertram Wyatt-Brown · Excerpt from the supplied edition	679
S11.60	American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt Daniel Rasmussen · PROLOGUE	680
S11.61	Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802 Douglas R. Egerton · Excerpt from the supplied edition	681
S11.62	He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey Douglas R. Egerton · He Shall Go Out Free5	683
S11.63	American Negro Slave Revolts Herbert Aptheker · HAPTER XII. THE TURNER CATACLYSM	685
S11.64	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South Lacy K. Ford · Extending Slavery	687

S11.65	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition Manisha Sinha · SEVEN: Interracial Immediatism	689
S11.66	Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community Vanessa M. Holden · ntroduction	691
S11.67	South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War Alice L. Baumgartner · NTRODUCTION	693
S11.68	Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement Fergus M. Bordewich · Epilogue	695
S11.69	Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation John Hope Franklin and Loren Schweninger · Preface	696
S11.70	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South Stephanie M. H. Camp · HAPTER TWO: I Could Not Stay There: Women, Men, and Truancy	698
S11.71	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom Walter Johnson · Excerpt from the supplied edition	700
S11.72	Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South Deborah Gray White · AR'N'TIA WOMAN?	702
S11.73	Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic Erskine Clarke · Preface	703
S11.74	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made Eugene D. Genovese · PART I OF THE GOD OF THE LIVING	705
S11.75	The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925 Herbert G. Gutman · Take Root There or Nowhere: I	706
S11.76	Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves Ira Berlin · prologue : slaveryandfreedom	707
S11.77	The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South John W. Blassingame · The Slave Community	709
S11.78	Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom Lawrence W. Levine · jo/ Black Culture and Black Consciousness	710
S11.79	American Slavery, 1619-1877 Peter Kolchin · AMERICAN SLAVERY	711
S11.80	Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community Vanessa M. Holden · Generation, Resistance, and Survival: African American Children and the Southampton Rebellion	713
S11.81	The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930 Anne Firor Scott · Discontent	715
S11.82	Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South Bertram Wyatt-Brown · Excerpt from the supplied edition	716
S11.83	The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South Catherine Clinton · THE SEXUAL DYNAMICS OF SLAVERY	718
S11.84	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers · THREE: "Missus Done Her Own Bossing"	719

S11.85	Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South Deborah Gray White · HAPTER ONE	721
S11.86	Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South Elizabeth Fox-Genovese · Southern Women, Southern Households	722
S11.87	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers · FOUR: “She Thought She Could Find a Better Market”	724
S11.88	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South Stephanie M. H. Camp · Excerpt from the supplied edition	726
S11.89	Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country Stephanie McCurry · Excerpt from the supplied edition	727

Chapter 12 · Religion and Reform

S12.01	Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845 Catherine A. Brekus · Recovering the History of Female Preaching in America	729
S12.02	Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt Christine Leigh Heyrman · others and Others in Israel	731
S12.03	Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism Ellen Eslinger · THE SOCIAL SIGNIFICANCE OF CAMP MEETING REVIVALISM	733
S12.04	The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844 Gilbert Hobbs Barnes · Excerpt from the supplied edition	734
S12.05	Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism Ellen Eslinger · NTRODUCTION Xill	736
S12.06	Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865 Mary P. Ryan · radle of the middle class	738
S12.07	The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880 Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds. · ONSEQUENCES IN THE NORTH	740
S12.08	A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837 Paul E. Johnson · NTRODUCTION	742
S12.09	The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850 Whitney R. Cross · THE GREAT REVIVAL	744
S12.10	Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America Ann Braude · ntroduction	746
S12.11	Sisters and Saints: Women and American Religion Ann Braude · WHEN THE SPIRIT MOVES WOMEN	747
S12.12	Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845 Catherine A. Brekus · Female Preaching in the Early Nineteenth Century	748
S12.13	Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt Christine Leigh Heyrman · SOUTHERN CROSS	750
S12.14	Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All Martha S. Jones · HAPTER 2 The Cause of the Slave, as Well as of Women	751

S12.15	Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865 Mary P. Ryan · radle of the middle class	753
S12.16	Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War Alice Felt Tyler · HAPTER	755
S12.17	Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860 Carl F. Kaestle · Preface	757
S12.18	The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840 Daniel Feller · The Kingdom of Christ	758
S12.19	The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic David J. Rothman · ntroduction to the 1990 Edition	760
S12.20	Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson David S. Reynolds · Reforms, Panaceas, Inventions, Fads	762
S12.21	American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism Dean Grodzins · Excerpt from the supplied edition	763
S12.22	Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States Lori D. Ginzberg · Introduction	765
S12.23	Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872 Nancy A. Hewitt · A Profusion of Pathways	767
S12.24	The Transcendentalists and Their World Robert A. Gross · Excerpt from the supplied edition	769
S12.25	American Reformers, 1815-1860 Ronald G. Walters · AMERICAN REFORMERS	771
S12.26	Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England Teresa Anne Murphy · Ten Hours Labor	772
S12.27	The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850 Whitney R. Cross · A MORAL REFORMATION	774
S12.28	Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860 Carl F. Kaestle · Pillars of the Republic	776
S12.29	City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860 Christine Stansell · ty of Women, pp. 218-220	777
S12.30	Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865 Clifford S. Griffin · Westerners and Immigrants	779
S12.31	The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic David J. Rothman · ntroduction to the 1990 Edition	781
S12.32	The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol Eric Burns · The Father of Prohibition and Other Kinfolk	783
S12.33	Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States Lori D. Ginzberg · Introduction	785

S12.34	A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837 Paul E. Johnson · NTRODUCTION	787
S12.35	Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860 Carl F. Kaestle · eology	789
S12.36	The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol Eric Burns · The Blues and How They Played	790
S12.37	A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837 Paul E. Johnson · passe	792
S12.38	American Reformers, 1815-1860 Ronald G. Walters · AMERICAN REFORMERS	794
S12.39	The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston Albert J. von Frank · events that converted them. And of course many were converted in	795
S12.40	The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914 George M. Fredrickson · Excerpt from the supplied edition	796
S12.41	The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition Gerda Lerner · THE GRIMKE SISTERS	797
S12.42	The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844 Gilbert Hobbs Barnes · REVIVAL TRIUMPHANT	799
S12.43	All on Fire: William Lloyd Garrison and the Abolition of Slavery Henry Mayer · y Soul Was on Fire Then	800
S12.44	Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery James Brewer Stewart · J HOLY WARRIORS	802
S12.45	The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement Julie Roy Jeffrey · Excerpt from the supplied edition	803
S12.46	Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform Len Gougeon · rtue’s Hero	804
S12.47	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition Manisha Sinha · ELEVEN: The Abolitionist International	806
S12.48	The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority Merton L. Dillon · Goading the Monster	808
S12.49	The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic Richard S. Newman · had to maintain their position as national protest leaders	809
S12.50	American Reformers, 1815-1860 Ronald G. Walters · AMERICAN REFORMERS	811
S12.51	Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life Stanley M. Elkins · hapter 4. The Transcendentalist as Abolitionist	812
S12.52	The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston Albert J. von Frank · rescue — should follow the Shadrach model, not the Jerry model, and	814
S12.53	Black Abolitionists Benjamin Quarles · Black abolitionists	816

S12.54	Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom David W. Blight · hapter 7: This Douglass!	818
S12.55	Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad Eric Foner · Excerpt from the supplied edition	820
S12.56	Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement Fergus M. Bordewich · BOUND FOB CAN AAN	822
S12.57	Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction Kate Masur · Epilogue	823
S12.58	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition Manisha Sinha · ntroduction: The Radical Tradition of Abolition	825
S12.59	All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900 Martha S. Jones · Excerpt from the supplied edition	827
S12.60	Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All Martha S. Jones · HAPTER 3 To Be Black and Female	829
S12.61	The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority Merton L. Dillon · The Abolitionists	831
S12.62	The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic Richard S. Newman · suddenly reappear at that moment—it was seized by new generations of	832
S12.63	Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860 Shirley J. Yee · Study in Activism, 1828—1860 Black Women Abolitionists: A	834
S12.64	Liberty Power: Antislavery Third Parties and the Transformation of American Politics Corey M. Brooks · Excerpt from the supplied edition	835
S12.65	Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom David W. Blight · hapter 14: My Voice, My Pen, or My Vote	836
S12.66	Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War Eric Foner · Salmon P. Chase: The Constitution and the Slave Power	838
S12.67	Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad Eric Foner · Excerpt from the supplied edition	840
S12.68	Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement Fergus M. Bordewich · Excerpt from the supplied edition	842
S12.69	The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844 Gilbert Hobbs Barnes · Excerpt from the supplied edition	844
S12.70	Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery James Brewer Stewart · ABOLITIONISTS AND THE FREE-SOIL MOVEMENT [	845
S12.71	Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction Kate Masur · The Liberty Party and Repeal of the Ohio Black Laws in the 1840s	847
S12.72	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition Manisha Sinha · FOURTEEN: The Politics of Abolition	849

S12.73	The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority Merton L. Dillon · The Abolitionists	851
S12.74	Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837-1860 Richard H. Sewell · “the right sort of politics”	852
S12.75	Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War Alice Felt Tyler · A FIRE-BELL IN THE NIGHT	854
S12.76	Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America Ann Braude · “Thine for Agitation”	856
S12.77	Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years Charles Capper · Excerpt from the supplied edition	858
S12.78	Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848-1869 Ellen Carol DuBois · Feminism and Suffrage	860
S12.79	The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition Gerda Lerner · THE GRIMKE SISTERS	862
S12.80	The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement Julie Roy Jeffrey · feared her work might be harmful to her newborn baby, whom she was	863
S12.81	The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898 Lisa Tetrault · Excerpt from the supplied edition	865
S12.82	Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872 Nancy A. Hewitt · Women’s Activism and Social Change	867
S12.83	American Reformers, 1815-1860 Ronald G. Walters · Women and a World without War	869
S12.84	The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement Julie Roy Jeffrey · the villages—and the smaller cities in the interior.”	870
S12.85	Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States Lori D. Ginzberg · “Her Strongest Moral Organ”	871
S12.86	Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865 Mary P. Ryan · The era of association	873
S12.87	Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872 Nancy A. Hewitt · Women’s Activism and Social Change	875
S12.88	Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845 Catherine A. Brekus · Female Preaching in the Early Nineteenth Century	877
S12.89	The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898 Lisa Tetrault · Excerpt from the supplied edition	878
S12.90	White Women's Rights: The Racial Origins of Feminism in the United States Louise Michele Newman · NTRODUCTION	880
S12.91	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition Manisha Sinha · FIVE: Black Abolitionists in the Slaveholding Republic	881

S12.92	All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900 Martha S. Jones · ntroduction	883
S12.93	Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All Martha S. Jones · NTRODUCTION Our Mothers' Gardens	885
S12.94	Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860 Shirley J. Yee · Sowing the Seeds of Black Feminism	887
S12.95	The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston Albert J. von Frank · ord in 1850, and had helped to arrange his lectures in Newbury	888
S12.96	Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War Alice Felt Tyler · UTOPIAS OF RELIGIOUS ORIGIN	890
S12.97	Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850 Anne C. Rose · Economy	892
S12.98	Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years Charles Capper · Excerpt from the supplied edition	894
S12.99	Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years Charles Capper · Excerpt from the supplied edition	896
S12.100	American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism Dean Grodzins · Excerpt from the supplied edition	898
S12.101	The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union George M. Fredrickson · ONSERVATIVES IN A RADICAL AGE	900
S12.102	Understanding Emerson: "The American Scholar" and His Struggle for Self-Reliance Kenneth S. Sacks · HAPTER	902
S12.103	Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform Len Gougeon · The Silent Years	904
S12.104	American Transcendentalism: A History Philip F. Gura · Heaven on Earth	906
S12.105	The Transcendentalists and Their World Robert A. Gross · Excerpt from the supplied edition	908
S12.106	American Reformers, 1815-1860 Ronald G. Walters · Heaven on Earth	910
S12.107	Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia Sterling F. Delano · Preface	911
S12.108	The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union George M. Fredrickson · THE DOCTRINE OF LOYALTY	913
S12.109	Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance Kenneth S. Sacks · SELF-RELIANCE	915
S12.110	Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance Kenneth S. Sacks · SELF-RELIANCE	917
S12.111	American Transcendentalism: A History Philip F. Gura · American Transcendentalism	919

S12.112	The Imperial Self: An Essay in American Literary and Cultural History Quentin Anderson · The Imperial Self	921
S12.113	The Transcendentalists and Their World Robert A. Gross · Excerpt from the supplied edition	922
S12.114	The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America Sacvan Bercovitch · Rites of Assent	924
S12.115	Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life Stanley M. Elkins · hapter 3. Sin, Guilty Innocence, and Reform	925
S12.116	Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia Sterling F. Delano · Beginning of the End	927
S12.117	The Quest for Nationality: An American Literary Campaign Benjamin T. Spencer · Nationality Through Region and Locale (1815-1892)	928
S12.118	Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years Charles Capper · Preface	930
S12.119	Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years Charles Capper · Excerpt from the supplied edition	932
S12.120	Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson David S. Reynolds · Wakinc GIANT	934
S12.121	American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman F. O. Matthiessen · METHOD AND SCOPE	936
S12.122	Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance Kenneth S. Sacks · hapter Two	938
S12.123	Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance Kenneth S. Sacks · hapter Two	940
S12.124	The Raven and the Whale: The War of Words and Wits in the Era of Poe and Melville Perry Miller · The Literary Prospects of 1845	942
S12.125	American Transcendentalism: A History Philip F. Gura · American Transcendentalism	944
S12.126	The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America Sacvan Bercovitch · Rites of Assent	946

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.01

The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism

Allan Kulikoff

SELECTION	The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 1992.

Excerpt

During the past decade, American historians and historical economists have participated in a reinvigorated discussion of the temporal and agrarian origins of American capitalism. Focusing on family farmers in the Northeast and upland South, these scholars have emphasized the meaning of capitalism, the character of rural economic exchange, and the degree of market participation — issues often missing in the early northern debate. Participants have not only borrowed theories from neoclassical economics, Marxian economics, and cultural anthropology but they have produced a substantial body of empirical research based on systematic examination of individual data (like account books) neglected by earlier scholars.^ This chapter seeks to explain this new debate over the transition to rural capitalism, assess its achievements, and evaluate its deficiencies. The subject should have a central place in early American social and economic history because it illuminates broader patterns of class conflict and social cohesion in the countryside, where the vast majority of Indians, settlers, and slaves lived. Whether one contends that capitalism arrived with the first colonists or that it came to dominate the countryside only after much struggle depends upon how that term is defined, and the definition in turn structures debate about economic exchange.

Author's Notes

1. Washington, 1832. Konig, David Thomas. "Community Custom and the Common Law: Social Change 294 Bibliography. "The Politics of Class Struggle in the History of Society: An Appraisal of the Works of Eric Hobsbawm." Pp. 13-36 in Pat Thane, Geoffrey Crossick, and Roderick Floud, eds,, The Power ofthe Past: Essays for Eric Hobsbawm. Cambridge, 1984.. Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made. New York, 1974.. The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation. 2d ed. Middletown, Conn., 1988. Gillespie, Michele. "Artisans and Mechanics in the Political Economy of Georgia, 1790-1860." Ph.D. diss., Princeton, 1990. Gilmer, George R. Sketches ofSome of the First Settlers of Upper Georgia. 1835. Reprint. Baltimore, 1980. Gilmore, Michael T. American Romanticism and the Marketplace. Chicago, 1985. Gjerde, Jon. From Peasants to Farmers: The Migration from Balestrand, Norway, to the Upper Middle West. Cambridge, 1985. Glasco, Laurence. "Migration and Adjustment in the Nineteenth-Century City: Occupation, Property, and Household Structure of Native-born Whites, Buffalo, New York, 1855." Pp. 154-78 in Tamara K. Hareven and Maris A. Vinovskis, eds.. Family and Population in Nineteenth-Century America. Princeton, 1978. Goldenberg, Joseph A., Eddie D. Nelson, and Rita Y. Flectcher. "Revolutionary Ranks: An Analysis of the Chesterfield Supplement." VMHB 87 (1979): 182-90. Goldin, Claudia, and Kenneth Sokoloff. "Women, Children, and Industrialization in the Early Republic: Evidence from the Manufacturing Censuses." JEH 42 (1982): 741-74. Goldwin, Robert A., and William A. Schambra, eds. How Democratic Is the Constitution? Washington, D.C., 1982. Goodman, Paul. "Social Basis of New England Politics in Jacksonian America." JEarR 6 (1986): 23-58. Goodrich, Carter. Government Promotion ofAmerican Canals and Railroads, 1800-1890. New York, 1960., ed. The Government and the Economy: 1783-1861. Indianapolis, 1967. Goodstein, Anita S. "Black History on the Nashville Frontier, 1780-1810." Tennessee Historical Quarterly 38 (1979): 401-20. Goodwyn, Lawrence. Democratic Promise: The Populist Moment in America. New York, 1976. Gordon, Linda. Heroes of Their Own Lives: The Politics and History of Family Violence, Boston 1880-1960. New York, 1988. Gough, Robert. "Notes on the Pennsylvania Revolutionaries of 1776." Pennsylvania Magazine ofHistory and Biography 96 (1972): 89-103. Gragg, Larry Dale. Migration in Early America: The Virginia Quaker Experience. Ann Arbor, Mich., 1980. Grant, Charles S. Democracy in the Connecticut Frontier Town ofKent. New York, 1961. Gray, Lewis Cecil. History of Agriculture in the Southern United States to 1860. 2 vols. Washington, D.C., 1933. Gray, Susan E. "Family, Land, and Credit: Yankee Communities on the Michigan Frontier, 1830-1860." Ph.D. diss., Chicago, 1985. Greeley, Horace. Hints toward Reform in Lectures, Addresses, and Other Writings. New York, 1853. Bibliography 287. "Tracing Rural New York's Out-Migrants, 1855-1860." Historical Methods 17 (1984): 59-67. David, Paul A. "The Mechanization of Reaping in the Ante-Bellum Midwest." Pp. 3-39 in in Rosovsky, ed.. Industrialization in Two Systems. Davidson, Cathy N. Revolution and the Word: The Rise of the Novel in America. New York, 1986. Davis, Charles S. The Cotton Kingdom in Alabama. Montgomery, Ala., 1939. Davis, David Brion. The Problem ofSlavery in the Age ofRevolution, 1770-1823. Ithaca, N.Y., 1975. Davis, Lance Edwin, and Peter Lester Payne. "From Benevolence to Business: The Story of Two Savings Banks." Business History Review 32 (1958): 386-406. Davis, Thomas J. "Emancipation Rhetoric, Natural Rights, and Revolutionary New England: A Note on Four Black Petitions in Massachusetts, 1773-1777." New England Quarterly 62 (1989): 248-63. Dawson, Michael. "Revamping the Sociology of Class: A Note on So and Hikam's Proposal." Sociological Perspectives 33 (1990): 419-22. Deane, Phyllis, and W. A. Cole. British Economic Growth, 1688-1959. Cambridge, 1962. DeBow, J. D. B. Statistical View of the United States...: Being a Compendium of the Seventh Census... Washington, D.C. 1854. Degler, Carl N. At Odds: Women and Family from the Revolution to the Present. New York, 1980.. "The West as a Solution to Urban Unemployment." New York History 36 (1955): 63-84. Demaree, Arthur Lowther. The American Agricultural Press, 1819-1860. New York, 1941. Demos, John. Entertaining Satan: Witchcraft and the Culture ofEarly New England. New York, 1982.. "George Caleb Bingham: The Artist as Social Historian." AQ 17 (1965): 218-28. DePauw, Linda Grant. "Land of the Unfree: Legal Limitations on Liberty in Pre- Revolutionary America." Maryland Historical Magazine 68 (1973): 355-68.. "Women in Combat: The Revolutionary War Experience." Armed Forces and Society 1 (1981): 209-26. Detweiler, Philip F. "The Changing Reputation of the Declaration of Independence: The First Fifty Years." WMQ 19 (1962): 557-74. Deutrich, Mabel E., and Virginia C. Purdy, eds. Clio Was a Woman: Studies in the History ofAmerican Women. Washington, D.C., 1980. Deutsch, Sarah. "Confronting Capitalism: Comparative Perspectives on Capitalism and Gender in Modern America." Paper presented at the conference on "Rural Women and the Transition to Capitalism in Rural America," March-April 1989, DeKalb,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kulikoff, Allan. *The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Allan Kulikoff, *The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism* (University Press of Virginia, 1992), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

Kulikoff, *The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.02

The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression

Andrew H. Browning

SELECTION	hapter Two. Three Revolutions: Market, Transportation, Corporation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 49–50 · Supplied edition: University of Missouri Press, 2019.

Excerpt

THREE REVOLUTIONS Market, Transportation, Corporation

Speaking at length—as he always did—in support of the proposed tariff of 1820, Henry Clay compared the nation that consumed its own produce to the idealized household of his Kentucky friend and neighbor, former governor Isaac Shelby:

You will behold every member of his family clad in the produce of their own hands, and usefully employed—the spinning wheel and the loom in motion by daybreak. With what pleasure will his wife carry you into her neat dairy, lead you into her store house.... What the individual family of Isaac Shelby is, I wish to see the nation in the aggregate become.[1]

Shelby had in fact become wealthy through interstate commerce in livestock, and he and Clay both raised hemp for the cordage and sailcloth industries. Clay, like modern politicians, was happy to invoke a nostalgic image of rural domestic virtue, but the self-sufficient farm was already becoming a thing of the past. By 1820 the United States was entering its second year of depression following the Panic of 1819. There had been hard times before in American memory, but this depression was different because the country was now different; subsistence farming was rapidly giving way to an interdependent network of commercial activity, more and more people were employed for wages, and members of the middle class were, for the first time, investing in corporate stock.

Rich investors like Robert Morris ("the financier of the Revolution") had been wiped out when a speculative bubble burst in 1797, but the impact of that crash had been limited to the major cities and the well-to-do. A financial crisis in 1792 had sent Hamilton's former assistant treasury secretary, William Duer, to debtors' prison, but it was not much felt outside of New York and was over in a month or two. The Mississippi Bubble and South Sea Bubble were still remembered for their insider trading and stockholder panics, but they had happened on the other side of the ocean, in a world where only the privileged felt their effects. They remained cautionary tales, but they were now nearly a century in the past.[2]

The economic "pressure" that hit big-city merchants and northern cotton mills in 1815 and 1816 spread down the Ohio River in 1817 and 1818, struck western land speculators and southern planters in 1819, and reached St. Louis and the Missouri Territory by 1820. It was an unprecedented nationwide depression in an increasingly complex economy: it hurt farmers, mill hands, shopkeepers, and stockholders in turnpikes and canal companies. The extent of the "hard times" was only possible because regions of the country and sectors of the economy were linked together as never before.

The successors to Washington and Jefferson's Revolutionary generation were going through their own revolution—three of them, in fact: two that have become familiar as the Market Revolution and Transportation Revolution of the antebellum 1800s, and a less well-known Corporation Revolution that helped make the other two possible. For the first time, cash income became a part of almost every American's calculations. The new economy made enormous fortunes, but its greatest effects were achieved in the more modest strata of society: the small farmers who became commodity traders and the artisans who became manufacturers all connected local markets to regional and national networks. The historian Joyce Appleby argues that they had a greater effect on the transformation of the economy than bankers or factory owners. She underlines the market's importance even to many of the rural poor "for whom the conspicuous material advances of their lifetime cemented their attachment to

both the nation and its economic prosperity." To Richard Ellis, one of the first historians to draw attention to the Market Revolution, it is "the key development that explains the transition from what is known as Jeffersonian Democracy to what is known as Jacksonian Democracy in United States History."[3]

Author's Notes

1. April 26, 1820, in Clay, Speeches, 1:226.

2. Chew, "Certain Victims of an International Contagion."

3. Appleby, "Popular Sources of American Capitalism," 440; Ellis, "Market Revolution," 149.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Browning, Andrew H. *The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression*. Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2019.

Footnote citation:

Andrew H. Browning, *The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression* (University of Missouri Press, 2019), 49–50.

Shortened citation:

Browning, *The Panic of 1819*, 49–50.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.03

The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862

Carol Sheriff

SELECTION	The Artificial River
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 126–127 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1996.

Excerpt

Businessmen argued as well that the state could and should guard them against other undesirable aspects of an extended market economy. When the Erie Canal connected the hinterlands of New York to the Atlantic market, it transformed commercial relations among upstate residents. As market transactions burgeoned and credit relations increased in complexity, the national economy experienced booms and busts, business enterprises appeared and disappeared overnight, and individuals weathered mercurial shifts in their financial well-being. Although this market instability affected the entire population, it had its most direct impact on the merchants and agents who facilitated market exchanges. A national shortage of cash, for example, limited the universal means of exchange for everyone, but it could devastate men whose livelihood depended on the flow of commerce. A rapid expansion of commercial activity, on the other hand, could bring quick wealth. Because the Erie Canal was the literal conduit of commercial exchange, New York State's businessmen argued that the state should use the Canal to enhance market growth while limiting the potential for busts. If the Canal Board did have the power to make other decisions that could sig-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sheriff, Carol. *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Carol Sheriff, *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862* (Hill and Wang, 1996), 126–127.

Shortened citation:

Sheriff, *The Artificial River*, 126–127.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.04

The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860

Christopher Clark

SELECTION	ntroduction H
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

Because this book is about social structures and relationships and not purely a quantitative measurement of the growth of markets, it can suggest an explanation of the emergence of rural capitalism. The con¬ cept of "capitalism" has given rise to even more debate and confusion than the concept of "markets," so a definition of what is meant by it is essential. In this book I use it to refer to the set of social relations in which labor is commonly divorced from the ownership of the land, tools, or materials that form the means of production; as a result of this, labor power is commonly hired for wages by the proprietors of land or industrial enterprises, and there exists in society a significant number of people whose principal means of livelihood is the wage work that they can obtain. For stylistic reasons, I have used the terms rural capitalism and capitalism interchangeably in places; both refer to the set of social relationships just described. I have used the term rural capitalism, rather than industrial capitalism, to indicate a stage in the development of social relations in the countryside and as a reminder that these relationships came to exist both in manufacturing proper and in farming. I argue that rural society was not, in this sense, "capitalist" at the end of the colonial period but that it had become so by the time of the Civil War. The means by which this happened is the subject matter of this book.

The "transition to capitalism" has long been a subject for discussion; the debate on rural society has helped place it high on the agenda for American social historians. Often, however, scholars have relied on single tests of the existence of capitalism comparable to the one outlined above and have advanced the view that the "transition" was a single set of processes. In what follows I have tried to show that this was not the case. In New England, the emergence of capitalism in the countryside followed a complex and uneven path, hardly reducible to a single stage. Nor, although its achievement was marked by the creation of a perma¬ nent wage-labor force, is this the only factor that needs to be traced.

In certain respects, the grounding for rural capitalism had been laid by the early white settlements in New England. Not only had coloniza¬ tion been motivated in part by the desire to profit from New World production and trade, but the establishment of freehold land tenure and the absence of substantial restrictions on the freedom of labor gave New England purer legal and political frameworks for capitalist development than were available in seigneurial or slave societies. But just because there had been a "capitalist" impetus for New England's development did not mean that all settlers were motivated by it, or remained so. Nor did the existence of free land and free labor mean that people would necessarily use them to create capitalist institutions. Many farmers in the interior were more concerned, as we shall see, to establish an independent household economy in which the use of wage labor and production for distant markets were severely curtailed.

Even had market orientation been greater than it was in the late eighteenth century, however, rural New England would not neces¬ sarily have been capitalist in character. As scholars of slavery have shown, it is possible to participate in long-distance trade without alter¬ ing the fundamentally noncapitalist character of a social structure.[18] Only over time, and under circumstances that need to be explored, did market involvement help bring about the creation of capitalist social relations in the New England countryside. Shifts in the exchange sys¬ tem, the use of credit, the emergence of cash and negotiable paper instruments, and the charging of interest on debts, which have also been taken as the marks of capitalism, all contributed to the process. Produce, capital, and labor markets also reflected, under specific social conditions, the emergence of groups of entrepreneurs capable of secur¬ ing control of

a proportion of the goods, credit, and labor power in the rural economy. Inequalities in the distribution of land and wealth fos¬ tered the growth of a population obliged to depend on wage labor. In short, the evolution of rural capitalism was defined, not by the adoption of any one particular set of practices, but by the accretion of a series of distinctive forms and organizations that together came to form a new economic system.

Examining a process of accretion, rather than a single "transition," requires that the book's organization be essentially chronological. The seven chapters that follow this introduction are divided into three groups. The earlier and later chapters outline two distinct phases in the transformation of the countryside, the first a period of "involution," or intensification of existing practices, from 1780 to the 1820s (Chapters 2 and 3), the second a period of capitalist "concentration" from then until the Civil War (Chapters 6, 7, and 8). Between them (in Chapters 4 and 3) comes a discussion of the processes that led to the shift from one phase to the next.

Author's Notes

18. On the noncapitalist, nonbourgeois character of a slave society committed to export and import markets, see Eugene D. Genovese, The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South (New York, 1967), esp. p. 23; and Elizabeth Fox- Genovese, Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South (Chapel Hill, 1988), pp. 53-58. While I was completing the draft of my book there became available James A. Henretta, "The War for Independence and American Economic Development," in The Economy of Early America: The Revolutionary Period, iy6y,-iyyo, ed. Ronald Hoffman, etal. (Charlottesville, Va., 1988), pp. 45-87, which stresses the noncapitalist development of American production between the Revolution and 1815.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clark, Christopher. *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Christopher Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860* (Cornell University Press, 1990), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.05

The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	The Market Revolution in America
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Finally, what of capitalism and the capitalist system? Historians and economists argue bitterly over the meaning of these terms and when they apply to early American society. Much of the quarrel can be attributed to precise (but different) definitions that make it possible to date the "rise of capitalism" to the 1620s, the 1740s, the 1790s, or the 1830s. A second line of controversy swirls around slavery and the nature of slave-based enterprise within a free-market system. Generations of historians, building on theoretical distinctions rooted in the writings of Karl Marx, portrayed the plantation economies of the southern colonies and states as fundamentally different from the mixed commercial-agricultural systems found in middle and northern states. More recent students have called attention to hard-driving, man-onthe-make planters, especially in the new slave states of the antebellum West, and question just how "backward" slaveholders really were. At the center of all these arguments lies the question: When did the cold calculus of the marketplace trump other considerations in the making of private decisions by ordinary individuals?

Long ago, Marx predicted that market forces would displace sentimental, familial, religious, or humanitarian values in a mature capitalist system; but while the tendency has been in that direction, it remains unclear just when — if ever — such a total transition took place. Before the market revolution, there were markets, to be sure: Profits were taken, greed exhibited, goods produced and exchanged. But greed was not normative, and an individual's behavior might as often contradict as conform to the dictates of economic interest. After the market revolution, "hard-headed" economic logic sought to dominate the process of evaluating all things. Individual identity dissolved into anonymity, commitment into contract, vocation into work, a living into a wage. The transformation never was absolute or complete. Long after the market revolution, people continued (and continue still) to exhibit behaviors (labeled "irrational") that contravened the expectations of economists. But there must have been a tipping point in history before which people did not believe — or did not accept it as natural and inevitable — that the market should be the universal arbiter of interests.

After that point, whether happily or not, people came to believe that social and material life likely would not (could not?) be otherwise. At that point, which may have lasted a generation, a year, or one "eureka" moment, people experienced the market revolution and entered an era of capitalist relations. That market revolution is the subject of this book. It is this tipping point for which we search in the lives of antebellum Americans, when they came to believe (correctly or not) that impersonal market forces had disabled the fabric of personal, familial, and cultural connections by which people earlier had tried to mitigate the hard facts of material life. It probably does not explain every personal and political decision made during the antebellum decades, but this market revolution was on the minds of nearly everyone in the United States between the Revolution and the Civil War, and it colored (if it did not dictate) their reaction to a host of public issues ranging from banking and money to

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good* (Cambridge University Press, 2009), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *The Market Revolution in America*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.06

The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds.

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 11–12 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Excerpt

The response to Sellers's work and the growing salience of the market revo¬ lution as a paradigm for explaining nineteenth-century history prompted the idea of a book to examine the varied expressions of the market revolution from the perspectives of a number of scholars working in differing fields of nineteenth-century history. It was intended that the essays to be brought together would embody a variety of approaches and represent a number of fields. Some would deal with the market revolution thesis itself; others would use it only as a starting point. Some would analyze the usefulness of the con¬ cept generally for a particular area of history, while several would engage specifically with the arguments in Sellers's book. In order that the essays themselves might be exposed to scholarly analysis and criticism, first drafts were circulated for discussion at the Commonwealth Fund Conference in London on February 11-12, 1994. The essays were subsequently revised— and additional essays added—to meet many of the points raised at the conference.

One crucial difficulty was chronology. While Sellers's discussion of social and cultural changes ranges back to the eighteenth century, his narrative of political development opens with the final act of the War of 1812 and closes with the Wilmot Proviso. The transformation of a mainly subsistence society into a largely market-oriented one took considerably longer than this. Robert Gross wrote about the tensions produced by commercial pressures in revolutionary Concord. Winifred Rothenberg has documented the emer¬ gence of a market economy in Massachusetts between 1785 and 1800. Joyce Appleby saw liberal capitalism as appealing strongly to farmers in the Middle Atlantic states in the 1790s, and the Jeffersonian victory of 1800 as the triumph of a new capitalist social order.

At the other end of the timescale, as Joel H. Silbey points out, the market's conquest remained patchy in many areas long after 1850. Economist John R. Commons recalled in his autobiography that his father, who had been at home in the subsistence economy of exchange and barter, proved incapable of making the transition to the world of money and credit. In this, it is likely that he was not alone, even in the years after the Civil War. William Allen White, in his autobiography, painted a dramatic portrait of what happened to one small town in Kansas when the market arrived in the late 1870s. Among present-day scholars, Steven Hahn has argued that the growth of the

Farmers' Alliance in upcountry Georgia in the 1880s was largely a response to the growing commercialization of agriculture.

It was clear that to end a study of the market revolution around 1850 would eliminate any consideration of the rise to power of the Republican party, which brought the Federal government to adopt promarket policies over banking and railroads. It would be to ignore the fact that without the success of the Union armies, no national market could have existed4[8]—or that it was only with Reconstruction that former African-American slaves gained full ac¬ cess to the market and that market ways spread deep into the southern backcountry. Taking into account these considerations, it was decided to extend the range of the book (though not of each individual essay) to include the period from approximately 1800 to 1880.

The essays themselves are concentrated in a number of broad areas. Christopher Clark, Harry L. Watson, and Amy Dru Stanley examine the so¬ cial and economic consequences of the market revolution. Clark, while find¬ ing the market revolution a useful explanatory concept in the history of the North, warns against seeing it as an inevitable process. It was a product of changes that were mostly contested, might not have happened at all or in the way they did, and in many areas produced results significantly at variance with what many historians have believed. Watson examines the impact of the market revolution on the South's distinctive dual economy of seaboard plantations and largely subsistence uplands. Each experienced the market revolution in different ways. The plantation economy was subjected to grow¬ ing commercial pressures. This had paradoxical implications for African- American slaves: it increased the danger of their sale but also made it possible for many of them to engage in market activities on their own behalf. In the uplands, by contrast, most white farmers resisted pressures for commercial development. This reluctance would seem only too correct in the years after the Civil War, as growing market relations created patterns of poverty and dependency throughout the rural South. Stanley explores the connections between gender relations and the development of a market society. Those relationships, she argues, were far more complex than the "separate spheres" model, initially advanced by Cott and Ryan and later used by Sellers, ac¬ knowledges. Many women carried on work at market-related tasks, in as well as outside the home. Yet, as a legitimating ideology, separate spheres helped mark the boundary not only between men and women but also—in the hands of the abolitionists—between slave labor and free.

Author's Notes

8. Sellers, Market Revolution, pp. 158,161.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stokes, Melvyn, and Stephen Conway, eds. *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds., *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880* (University Press of Virginia, 1996), 11–12.

Shortened citation:

eds., *The Market Revolution in America*, 11–12.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.07

The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860

Morton J. Horwitz

SELECTION	ustom and Contract
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 198–199 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1977.

Excerpt

Parson's "objective" theory of contracts develops at roughly the same time as the social significance of the market was once more undergoing a major transformation. Between 1790 and 1850 the overwhelming emphasis in legal and economic thought was on the random and fluctuating nature of value that had been introduced by a market economy. "Nothing can be more variable than price...," Verplanck had declared in 1825. "The market rate of all goods is constantly changing.... There is, then, it is evident, nothing like a permanent value of one commodity, or kind of property, as compared with another."I8I In short, the social meaning that legal writers derived from the early stages of the growth of markets was that value was arbitrary and subjective and that only individual preferences could correctly determine the price of a thing.

There was, of course, another meaning to be derived from the development of markets: that stable market price can provide an "objective" measure of social value. Even Verplanck occasionally saw the possibility of using the market price as a measure of the fairness of a transaction. "If a merchant were to pay me eight dollars a barrel for a cargo of flour which he could have bought off anyone else for four no one would hesitate to say that here is an unequal bargain Thus it is that inadequacy in price may afford strong presumptive evidence... of some error or fraud in the substance of the contract."182 Yet, despite such occasional lapses, the overwhelming message of Verplanck and all other legal writers and judges before mid-century was that price could not provide a social measure of value because it radically fluctuated due to "the speculation, the tastes, wants, or caprices of purchasers."183

As markets became more "m.ature" by becoming more extensive and uniform, due largely to improved transportation, the social experience of price stability tended to reintroduce, though in substantially diluted form, the power of a conception of.objective value.[184] During the 1850s, for example, courts no longer defended the rule of caveat emptor in terms of the subjectivity of value but rather in the entirely different terms of whether the contracting parties had an equal opportunity to learn the objective market price of a commodity.I8!} As a result of this shift, Theophilus Parsons became the first treatise writer to complain that the rule of caveat emptor was "severe, and... sometimes works wrong and hardship; and it is not surprising that it has been commented upon in terms of strong reproach, not only by the community, but by members of the legal profession." In fact, the notion of objective value began to resurface in Parsons' work. While he at first seemed inclined to overthrow caveat emptor in all cases "where an article is sold of which the value is materially affected by some defect which the buyer cannot know or discover...," his orthodox disposition ultimately led him to conclude that the existing rule "may perhaps be regarded as upon the whole well adapted to protect right [and] to prevent wrong."186

Nevertheless, the impact of developing national markets seems strongly to have affected the character of Parsons' work. As the Civil War approached, "the organization of both foreign and domestic trade had reach~d a degree of specialization and a country-wide integration typical of modern national economies.... Cotton was sold by sample in New York and New Orleans, and tremendous quantities of grain changed hands in Chicago and Buffalo merely on the basis of recognized grades."187 The need for a uniform and consistent set of essentially it~personal commercial rules had begun to overwhelmlegal doctrines such as caveat emptor, which still presupposed an economy based on face-to-face dealings.

One of the most interesting expressions of this tendency toward depersonalization is also typical of the way in which, under changed circumstances, a minor exception to a common law rule often eventually undermines the rule itself. As early as 1816 the Massachusetts Supreme Court held that a sale by sample warranted that the article sold was of the same kind as the sample, thus constituting a small, but clear, exception to the rule of caveat emptor.[188] In 1831 the Pennsylvania Supreme Court, remarking on "the constant change, which is daily taking place in the course of trade, and commercial dealings," relaxed the rule still further by holding that all articles sold through bills of sale included a w.arranty.[189]

Author's Notes

184. There was a major decline in price differentials among various markets between 1816-20 and 1856-60. See G. Taylor, The Transportatz"on Revolutz"on) 1815-1860 333 (1951). This, of course, shows only that markets became more extensive, not that they became more stable. I am assuming, what may prove to be incorrect, that as markets became more extensive, price fluctuations also tended to diminish.

188. Bradford v~ Manly, 13 Mass. 139 (1816).

189. Borrekins v. Bevan, 3 Rawle 23, 43 (Pa. 1831). See also Henshaw v. Robins, 50 Mass. (9 Met.) 83 (1845), which Parsons regarded as establishing the rule as "well settled." 1 T. Parsons, supra note 145 at 464, note P.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Horwitz, Morton J. *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1977.

Footnote citation:

Morton J. Horwitz, *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860* (Harvard University Press, 1977), 198–199.

Shortened citation:

Horwitz, *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860*, 198–199.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.08

Empire of Cotton: A Global History

Sven Beckert

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf (pb. Vintage), 2014.

Excerpt

Many historians have called this the age of “merchant” or “mercantile” capitalism, but “war capitalism” better expresses its rawness and violence as well as its intimate connection to European imperial expansion. War capitalism, a particularly important but often unrecognized phase in the development of capitalism, unfolded in a constantly shifting set of places embedded within constantly changing relationships. In some parts of the world it lasted well into the nineteenth century.

When we think of capitalism, we think of wage workers, yet this prior phase of capitalism was based not on free labor but on slavery. We associate industrial capitalism with contracts and markets, but early capitalism was based as often as not on violence and bodily coercion. Modern capitalism privileges property rights, but this earlier moment was characterized just as much by massive expropriations as by secure ownership. Latter-day capitalism rests upon the rule of law and powerful institutions backed by the state, but capitalism’s early phase, although ultimately requiring state power to create world-spanning empires, was frequently based on the unrestrained actions of private individuals—the domination of masters over slaves and of frontier capitalists over indigenous inhabitants. The cumulative result of this highly aggressive, outwardly oriented capitalism was that Europeans came to dominate the centuries-old worlds of cotton, merge them into a single empire centered in Manchester, and invent the global economy we take for granted today.

War capitalism, then, was the foundation from which evolved the more familiar industrial capitalism, a capitalism characterized by powerful states with enormous administrative, military, judicial, and infrastructural capacities. At ☐rst, industrial capitalism remained tightly linked to slavery and expropriated lands, but as its institutions—everything from wage labor to property rights—gained strength, they enabled a new and di☐erent form of integration of the labor, raw materials, markets, and capital in huge swaths of the world. These new forms of integration drove the revolutions of capitalism into ever more corners of the world.

As the modern world came of age, cotton came to dominate world trade. Cotton factories towered above all other forms of European and North American manufacturing. Cotton growing dominated the U.S. economy throughout much of the nineteenth century. It was in cottons that new modes of manufacturing ☐rst came about. The factory itself was an invention of the cotton industry. So was the connection between slave agriculture in the Americas and manufacturing across Europe. Because for many decades cotton was the most important European industry, it was the source of huge pro☐ts that eventually fed into other segments of the European economy. Cotton also was the cradle of industrialization in virtually every other part of the world—the United States and Egypt, Mexico and Brazil, Japan and China. At the same time, Europe’s domination of the world’s cotton industry resulted in a wave of deindustrialization throughout much of the rest of the world, enabling a new and di☐erent kind of integration into the global economy.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven. *Empire of Cotton: A Global History*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert, *Empire of Cotton: A Global History* (Alfred A. Knopf (pb. Vintage), 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Beckert, *Empire of Cotton*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.09

The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860

Christopher Clark

SELECTION	nterpreting Rural Economic Change
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 9–10 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

For a long time, historians of industrial capitalism paid little attention to older rural regions such as those in New England. The transforma¬ tion of America's economy and society seemed best symbolized by the building of large factories, by the creation of new industrial towns like Lowell, Massachusetts, and by the rapid expansion of older cities like Boston, New York, and Philadelphia into teeming metropolises. Con¬ trasted with these dramas, rural society appeared passive and back¬ ward. The countryside interested some scholars as a source of urban population and industrial labor, but such interest merely reflected its relative decline; in the nineteenth century, rural life was something people started to avoid.[9] This emphasis on towns and cities dominated the "new social history" of America up to the late 1970s and beyond.

The main reason for historians' lack of interest in rural society was that changes in it between the Revolution and the Civil War seemed to present no serious problems of interpretation. Most scholars held that Americans had been "capitalists" since the first colonial settlements— none more so than New England farmers, proprietors of their own soil and subject to no feudal or neofeudal exactions. True, colonial histo¬ rians had begun to write of Puritan communalism and collective values in the early years, but most agreed that these values had succumbed to individualism and grasping ambition by the mid-eighteenth century. "Yankees" had, after all, long been proverbial for their acuteness in spotting a bargain, selling to the highest bidder, and seizing the main chance.[10] Farmers were true to type but were often hampered by poor soils, poor techniques, distance from markets, and poor transportation; if many of them did not in fact raise and sell cash crops for profit in the eighteenth century, it was for lack of opportunity, not of the ambition to do so. The history of their integration into national markets in the nineteenth century therefore seemed quite straightforward: new roads, canals, and railroads opened access to urban markets; new farming methods, promoted by agricultural societies and progressive periodi¬ cals, raised output; new tools and implements reduced unit labor costs. Rural change seemed more a matter of techniques than of fundamental attitudes.* 11

For more than a decade, this view of the rural North has been under growing scholarly scrutiny. Many of the facts on which the old inter¬ pretation rested have survived intact, but the process of adding to them and rethinking their significance has left the interpretation itself in shreds.[12] So far, though, no single new view has emerged to replace it. The sharpest attacks on it have come from two opposite directions, the debate between which has recently begun to dominate the field of rural history.

Author's Notes

9. Mary P. Ryan, Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865 (Cambridge, Eng., 1981), traces migrants from rural Oneida County to Utica but then focuses on the city itself. Studies of urban industries and their use of rural labor include Alan Dawley, Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn (Cambridge, Mass., 1976), and Thomas L. Dublin, Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826-1860 (New York, 1979). Dublin, in particular, has extended his research into the rural origins of migrants and industry in the coun¬ tryside itself: see Thomas L. Dublin, ed.. Farm to Factory: Women's Letters, 1850-1860 (New York, 1981); idem, “Women and Outwork in a 19th Century New England Town," in The Countryside in the Age of Capitalist Transformation: Essays in the Social History of Rural America, ed. Steven Hahn and Jonathan Prude (Chapel Hill, 1983); idem, “Rural-Urban Migrants in Industrial New England: The Case of Lynn, Massachusetts, in the Mid-i9th Century," Journal of American History 73 (Dec 1986). Alexander James Field, “Sectoral Shift in Ante¬ bellum Massachusetts: A Reconsideration," Explorations in Economic History 13 (Apr 1978): 146-171, argues that the relative decline of mid-century New England agriculture contrib¬ uted to the expansion of manufacturing in the region.

10. The classic argument that America lacked feudal institutions was made by Louis Hartz, The Liberal Tradition in America: An Interpretation of American Political Thought since the Revolution (New York, 1955). Early communalism and its subsequent decline was the theme of Kenneth A. Lockridge, A New England Town, the First Hundred Years: Dedham, Massachusetts, 1656-1756 (New York, 1970). Richard L. Bushman, From Puritan to Yankee: Character and the Social Order in Connecticut, 1690-1765 (Cambridge, Mass.’ 1967), also discussed the growth of individual acquisitiveness. Charles S. Grant, Democracy in the Connecticut Frontier Town of Kent (New York, 1961), portrayed farmers as profit-oriented entrepreneurs, a view essentially accepted by some Marxist scholars too: see Douglas F. Dowd, The Twisted Dream: Capitalist Development in the United States since 1776 (Boston, 1974)/ PP- 152-153-

12. From 1969 onward several works stimulated new interest in rural history for what it could tell us about broader developments. The most important was James T. Lemon, The Best Poor Man's Country: A Geographical Study of Early Southeastern Pennsylvania (Baltimore, 1972); others included Clarence H. Danhof, Change in Agriculture: The Northern United States, 1820-1870 (Cambridge, Mass., 1969); Diane Lindstrom, Economic Development in the Philadelphia Region, 1810-1850 (New York, 1978); P. G. E. Clemens, The Atlantic Economy and Colonial Maryland's Eastern Shore (Ithaca, N.Y., 1980); Joan M. Jensen, Loosening the Bonds: Mid-Atlantic Farm Women, 1750-1850 (New Haven, 1986); Jeremy Atack and Fred Bateman, To Their Own Soil: Agriculture in the Antebellum North (Ames, Iowa, 1987). Important interpretations of early New England landscape and ecology are John R. Stilgoe, The Common Landscape of America, 1580-1845 (New Haven, 1982), and William Cronon, Changes in the Land: Indians, Colonists, and the Ecology of New England (New York, 1983). Social histories of New England rural communities include Robert A. Gross, The Minutemen and Their World (New York, 1976), and Christopher M. Jedrey, The World of John Cleaveland: Family and Community in Eighteenth-Century New England (New York, 1979). For a discussion of recent literature on agriculture, see James T. Lemon, "Agriculture and Society in Early America," Agricultural History Review 35 (1987): 76-94.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clark, Christopher. *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Christopher Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860* (Cornell University Press, 1990), 9–10.

Shortened citation:

Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism*, 9–10.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.10

The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds.

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 1–2 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Excerpt

MELVYNSTOKES In the last few years, growing attention has been paid by historians to the idea of a “market revolution” in early nineteenth-century America. A largely subsistence economy of small farms and tiny workshops, satis¬ fying mostly local needs through barter and exchange, gave place to an economy in which farmers and manufacturers produced food and goods for the cash rewards of an often distant marketplace. Such a change had major implications for household arrangements, social institutions, political ide¬ ology and practice, and cultural patterns. Charles Sellers was using the con¬ cept of a market revolution at least as early as the 1960s. In 1975, Sellers’s Berkeley colleague Michael P. Rogin structured a chapter of his study of Jack-^ sonian Indian policy around the market revolution. Sean Wilentz used the term in a 1982 essay and developed a broader application of the idea eight years later. Harry L. Watson adopted the market revolution as a major or¬ ganizing theme of his important 1990 reappraisal of Jacksonian politics. Since 1990, scholars including Daniel Feller, Paul Goodman, William E. Gienapp, Paul E. Johnson, and Donald J.
Ratcliffe have incorporated it into their work. In 1991, Sellers published what is clearly destined to remain the major synthe¬ sis of early nineteenth-century history from the perspective of the market revolution. Though market revolution may be a relatively new term to most American historians, the ideas underpinning it are by no means original. The general characteristics of the transition from a local agricultural and handicraftsbased economic system to an industrial-type economy oriented toward mar¬ kets were first mapped out by political economists around the turn of the century. These writers were concerned to apply Darwinian ideas on evolution to economics by identifying the varying “stages” of economic development. They were aware that economic changes involved modifications in human thought and behavior. They also realized that politics was affected: the last years of the nineteenth century saw the emergence of the idea that early American politics could be explained as a contest between social groups at varying stages of economic development. Over a century ago, it seemed evi¬ dent to one historian that American farmers of the early republic were di¬ vided on subsistence-commercial lines. Orin G.
Libby, who had studied with Frederick Jackson Turner, made the differences between the two groups an integral part of his analysis of the struggle over ratifying the Constitution. The subsistence-commercial dichotomy also appeared in Charles A. Beard’s account of the making of the Constitution. It played a major role in the later work of Jackson Turner Main.

More relevant, perhaps, to the modern market revolution thesis is that key elements of the thesis were prefigured in George R. Taylor’s Transportation Revolution (1951). The United States, Taylor wrote, was still primarily an ag¬ ricultural country in 1815. Though he said little about agriculture itself (a subject reserved for a later volume in the same series), it is clear that he re¬ garded most farming as being of a subsistence character. Commercial farm¬ ing took place only near rivers and the coast; Niles’ Weekly Register asserted, with conceivable exaggeration, in 1818 that two-thirds of South Carolina’s market crops were grown within five miles of a river. Such manufacturing as there was took place predominantly in the countryside, where it was carried on by households and mills producing goods for domestic or neighborhood use. The cost of inland transportation appeared to block any hope of change toward a less local, more market-oriented type of economy. In 1816, a U.S. Senate report pointed out that a ton of goods could be brought from Europe to America for roughly nine dollars, while the same amount would pay for shipment over only

thirty miles by land. Better communications, in the form of turnpike roads, canals, river steamboats, plank roads, and railroads, brought the cost of overland transportation down sharply during the follow¬ ing decades. Taylor listed other factors—a swiftly expanding population, a wealth of manufacturing resources, a stable government favorable to enter¬ prise, and the lack of social or political restraints on entrepreneurial activi¬ ties that contributed to the development of the American economy. Ulti¬ mately, however, it was improved transportation he saw as the main reason for the rise of an increasingly industrial and commercial society.0

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stokes, Melvyn, and Stephen Conway, eds. *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds., *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880* (University Press of Virginia, 1996), 1–2.

Shortened citation:

eds., *The Market Revolution in America*, 1–2.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.11

The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution

Charles R. Morris

SELECTION	THE DAWN OF INNOVATION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 270–271 · Supplied edition: PublicAffairs, 2012.

Excerpt

clearly at or approaching such a point in 1860, but the progression was violently disrupted by the war. When growth resumed at the end of the 1860s, it was accompanied by dramatic turns in the economy that are still not completely understood. The 1870s was a time of jagged economic ups and downs, including a steep railroad-led crash in 1874 and an equally sharp recovery late in the decade. But over the full decade, nominal growth (not adjusted for inflation), was 3. percent, or about the long-term average. The surprise came when economic historians adjusted the 1870s data for price inflation. In the modern era, we assume moderate price inflation is anormal condition, so "real" (inflation-adjusted) growth is always somewhat lower than nominal growth. But when the price adjustment was applied to the 1870s data, output rose by nearly 60 percent. In other words, prices fell, and quite substantially, through most of the decade even as output soared. The deflation was felt by almost everyone as a dreadful, and extremely disruptive, experience. It was a period of extraordinary social unrest.

The year 1877, for reasons that are obscure, saw riots in most major cities, and Pittsburgh mobs put the torch to virtually all the main installations of the Pennsylvania Railroad. The phenomenon of real prices falling even as real output rose continued through most of the 1880s. As Japan has painfully shown, generally falling prices now tend to be associated with stagnation or depressions. But in the 1870s, wholesale prices fell by about 25 percent, the population grew by about 25 percent, employment grew by 40 percent, and real output grew by a blazing 67 percent. All real indices were up strongly. Fuel consumption doubled, metal consumption tripled, and the real value of manufacturing output was up by 40 percent. Food production showed the same picture. Home consumption of grains and cotton rose by half, and per capita beef consumption increased by 40 percent. Wheat exports were up percent, and beef exports rose eightfold. Total agricultural exports more than doubled, and railroad freight loadings were up strongly.

At the end of the decade, Americans were better fed, better clothed, and better educated, with bigger farms and higher output, and with access to a much broader range of products like stoves, washtubs, new farm machinery, and much else. Real growth in the decade, at 6. percent, is among the fastest in the country's history, although real people, it seems clear, mostly felt awful.*4? The evidence suggests a "supply shock," a rare event on an economywide basis. Supply shocks frequently occur in individual commodity markets: the recent success in exploiting large shale-based natural gas fields in the United States has sent natural gas prices plummeting and may ultimately affect all fossil-derived fuel prices. But a supply shock in a large nation that occurs more or less across the board implies a far-reaching increment in national capacity. A reasonable speculation is that in the United States, after the Civil War, the combined impact of a deepened national transportation network and the spreading application of mechanized, rational production methods to every kind of industry triggered new economies of scale, in both production and distribution, across a wide swath of industries.

Both factory productivity and labor productivity registered a sharp jump upwards in the mid-1870s and maintained that level for the rest of the century. The jump in per capita output is consistent with the large accretion of capital in the United States in this period. Per capita consumption roughly doubled from mid-century to 1900, but savings increased by two and a half times, to nearly 30 percent of household incomes by the century's end, possibly its highest ever. The country's capital stock tripled from the from a relatively small base, and then grew another eightfold from 1860 and compared to Europe's, it was much newer.*' The falling prices seen

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Morris, Charles R. *The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution*. New York: PublicAffairs, 2012.

Footnote citation:

Charles R. Morris, *The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution* (PublicAffairs, 2012), 270–271.

Shortened citation:

Morris, *The Dawn of Innovation*, 270–271.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.12

The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840

Daniel Feller

SELECTION	The Year of Jubilee
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 9–10 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

By the 1820s the obstacles that stood between Americans and their dreams seemed at last to have been cleared. Napoleon was overthrown and the European world at peace. The United States had vindicated its rights and honor against Great Britain, survived without injury the War of

1812, and weathered the wrenching adjustment to a peacetime economy brought on by the depression of 1819. Party strife had precipitously, and people hoped permanently, collapsed. Foreign wars of revolution and con¬ quest, domestic divisions of Federalist and Republican, the uncertainty and danger of a world in upheaval, all now seemed safely past.

Never since the Revolution had the future seemed so inviting. In 1823 Niles' Weekly Register, the great national news compendium, listed the cir¬ cumstances that ensured Americans "the greatest possible sum of human happiness." They numbered fully eighteen, but could be summarized in three: an open continent with untapped resources; an "active, industrious, energetic, enterprising and ingenious" population; and of course a republi¬ can government, "the most free and liberal that ever existed." The potential that had captivated revolutionaries was now becoming real. New modes of transportation and manufacture promised a material abundance and an ease of communication hitherto unthinkable. The millions of western acres awaiting settlement, the admission of six new states to the Union between

1816 and 1821, and the acquisition of Florida and extension of American territory to the Pacific in 1819 all held promise of what Flezekiah Niles called "boundless prosperity and happiness."

The United States was beginning to act on the world stage as well. As Daniel Webster pointed out at Bunker Hill, the wave of revolutions in Latin America and the struggle for independence in Greece seemed to her¬ ald that remaking of the world in America's image foretold by patriots a half-century before. Americans were now secure enough in nationhood that they could debate whether to aid the cause of European republicanism by assistance or example. Closer to home, they could challenge the great powers directly. In his annual message of December 1823, President James Monroe warned off European nations from further colonization or con¬ quest in the Americas. Lafayette, a lover of liberty everywhere, called this pronouncement "the best little bit of paper that God had ever permitted any man to give to the World."

Looking around, Americans saw themselves endowed with material and moral riches no people had ever enjoyed—the best government on earth, sustained by a virtuous and intelligent citizenry; an inexhaustible store of land and resources; and a population keen to develop them. Truly, it seemed, America had been blessed with illimitable prospects. What should Americans make of them?

Options and Choices

Even as they sang their Jubilee, citizens began to argue this question. The debate took many forms. In politics, it shattered the fragile nonpartisanship achieved under the administration of President James Monroe. In Wash¬ ington over the winter of 1824—25, Lafayette witnessed the denouement of the closest presidential election since 1800. Andrew Jackson, hero of New Orleans, led the four-man field. But the House of Representatives spurned him and chose John Quincy Adams, runner-up in the popular and electoral vote. The election foreshadowed a new competitive politics that would offer, and require, real choices in personalities, policies, and philosophies. Adams, surveying American history and prospects in his inaugural address, found cause for "grateful exultation" at past

success and “cheering hope” for domestic harmony in a world at peace. Yet his own disputed ascen¬ sion to the presidency shattered that hope. When Adams announced a bold program of “moral, political, intellectual improvement” and challenged Congress to enact it, an opposition converged around Jackson.

Outside politics, other choices beckoned. “The spirit of improvement is abroad upon the earth,” Adams proclaimed, and so most Americans be¬ lieved. But their enthusiasm masked divergent, even contradictory, ideas of just what improvement meant. Some of the most urgent debate emerged around questions of economy, family, and religion.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feller, Daniel. *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995), 9–10.

Shortened citation:

Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise*, 9–10.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.13

The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860

George Rogers Taylor

SELECTION	THE TRANSPORTATION REVOLUTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 134–135 · Supplied edition: Rinehart, 1951.

Excerpt

Actual charges for wagon carriage show wide variation even within given sections of the country. Thus, for three turnpikes leading out of Boston the situation was as follows: rates northward to Con¬ cord, New Hampshire, were 20 cents a ton-mile in 1822, westward to Worcester 17. cents in 1833, and southward to Fall River 7. cents in 1828. A Pennsylvania estimate of 1824 gives the cost of turnpike transportation in that state as a little more than 13 cents a ton-mile. At the time when railroads were first introduced, 20 cents a ton-mile appears to have been regarded as the average wagon charge. By the fifties, 15 cents was considered the usual rate on “ordinary highways. y

On even the earliest railroads rates were appreciably lower than those charged for wagon transportation. When the railroad from Bos¬ ton to Worcester began operation in 1833, its charge between the two terminals was 6. cents a ton-mile as compared to 17. cents on the turnpike. As railroads improved and iron rails linked the chief com¬ mercial centers of the country, land transportation became so cheap as to permit long-distance shipment of bulky products. Rail freight rates varied from one part of the country to another and present difficulties of comparison because special-class and commodity rates were soon adopted by each railroad. In Virginia in 1860 the Rich¬ mond and Petersburg Railroad, primarily a coal-carrying line, charged 9 cents a ton-mile for wheat and 2. cents for coal. Rut the producecarrying Orange and Alexandria charged 5 cents a ton-mile for wheat, 3 cents for coal, and, in order to stimulate wheat production, only 2 cents on plaster and manure. Also, rates fluctuated with the business cycle and according to competitive conditions. Nevertheless, a strong trend downward to the Civil War is clearly indicated. For railroads in New York State, the average ton-mile charge was 9.^{04} cents for first-class freight and 5. for second-class in 1848. In 1851, the gen¬ eral average was 4.^{05} cents and by 1860 it was 2. cents. For bulky products moved over long distances rates went even lower. Just be¬ fore the Civil War the charge on all-rail shipments of wheat from Chicago to New York was 34. cents a bushel, or about 1. cents a ton-mile.1 When these rates at the end of the period are compared with those for 1815-1820 it will be seen that for shipments by land of bulky products over appreciable distances freight charges had been reduced by approximately 95 per cent. Less than half of this decline merely reflects a decline in the general level of prices; the remainder represents a real reduction in the cost of land transport. The magnitude of this change was so great as to permit a major revolution in domestic commerce.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taylor, George Rogers. *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*. Economic History of the United States 4. New York: Rinehart, 1951.

Footnote citation:

George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (Rinehart, 1951), 134–135.

Shortened citation:

Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*, 134–135.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.14

Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse

Richard R. John

SELECTION	The Postal System as an Agent of Change
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 24–25 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

The Postal System as an Agent ofChange be a mirror for changes originating in some other realm. No less than the highway system or the industrial corporation, the postal system itself was an agent of change. My intention, in short, is not merely to locate the postal system in the social process, but to explore its role as a social process, and, in particular, to consider some of the ways in which the communications revolution that it set in motion transformed American public life.

In no sense was this transformation foreordained. No one in 1775, or even 1788, could possibly have anticipated the full magnitude of the changes that were about to occur. And only in part were these changes the product of monster abstractions like commercialization or demographic expansion. No less important was the reconstitution ofAmerican postal policy that the Founding Fathers set in motion with the passage of the Post Office Act of 1792. So far reaching were the implications ofthis landmark piece oflegislation that it is worth considering whether the single most revolutionary era in the entire history ofAmerican communications may well have taken place in the half-centurypreceding the commercialization of the electric telegraph in 1844.

The chapters that follow elaborate on this theme. Chapters 2, 3, and 4 consider the challenge that the communications revolution posed for American public life, focusing, respectively, on the passage of the Post Office Act of 1792, the completion of the national postal network that the act brought into existence, and the implications ofthis achievement for the millions ofAmericans scattered throughout the United States.[84]

The remaining three chapters focus, respectively, on the challenge to postal policy posed by the Sabbatarians, who were opposed to the transmission of the mail on the Sabbath; the Jacksonians, who were hostile to the growing influence ofthe postmaster general in national politics; and the slaveholders, who were outraged by the determination of abolitionists to organize a mass mailing to transform public attitudes toward slavery. In each of these controversies, the postal system was far more than the arena within which the action was staged. Rather, in a variety ofsubtle and not-so-subtle ways, it shaped the public issues that these controversies raised and the social divisions that they spawned. And in the course ofthis complicated drama ofchallenge and response, the political persuasion that has come to be known as Jacksonian Democracy was born and, with it, some of the most enduring features of American public life.[85]

The Communications

Revolution

IN THE FOUR DECADES between the adoption of the federal Constitution in 1788 and the victory ofAndrew Jackson in the election of1828, the American postal system expanded from the minor adjunct ofa neocolonial bureaucracy to the central administrative apparatus of an independent state. This remarkable transformation was set in motion with the Post Office Act of 1792, a landmark in American communications policy and one ofthe most important single pieces oflegislation to have been enacted by Congress in the early republic. Prior to 1792, the American postal system remained constrained by the assumptions that had shaped royal postal policy for British North America ~n the period prior to the War ofIndependence. After 1792, it was rapidly transformed into a dynamic institution that would exert a major influence on American commerce, politics, and political thought.

Author's Notes

84. My decision to draw on general concepts like "network" and "infrastructure" has been influenced by the example ofAlfred D. Chandler, Jr., who has long urged historians to frame their inquiries in broadly institutional terms. See, in particular, Chandler's "Business History as Institutional History" in Thomas K. McCraw, ed., The Essential Alfred Chandler: Essays toward a Historical Theory ofBig Business (Boston: Harvard Business School Press, 1988), pp. 301-306.

85. For a more extended discussion of scholarship on the history of communications in the United States, including Chandler's treatment of the postal system, see Richard R. John, "American Historians and the Concept of the Communications Revolution," in Lisa Bud-Frierman, ed., InformationAcumen: The Understanding and Use ofI(nowledge in Modern Business (London: Routledge, 1994), pp. 98-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

John, Richard R. *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Richard R. John, *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse* (Harvard University Press, 1995), 24–25.

Shortened citation:

John, *Spreading the News*, 24–25.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.15

The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862

Carol Sheriff

SELECTION	sions of Progress
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 21–22 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1996.

Excerpt

government could not legally sponsor projects like the Erie Canal, as desirable as those projects might be. Some critics accused Madison of having sectional biases, of not wanting to boost New York, the arch economic rival of his native Virginia. Whatever his motivations, it became clear that any such future transportation projects would have to be undertaken by the states. This was to be an era of state, rather than national, power. ^^ DeWitt Clinton then took the lead in piecing together a bill in the state legislature that funded an interior canal from New York's coffers. His task was not easy, since the war had inflamed political divisions within the state. In 18 12, Clinton had come forward as a peace candidate for President, competing against his fellow Republican James Madison and, in the process, splitting the New York Republicans into Clintonians and anti- Clintonians. Since Clinton's name would become the one most associated with the Canal project (which critics derided as "Clinton's big ditch"), strong anti-Clintonian sentiment impeded his efforts to negotiate compromises over funding.

While most politicians voted, in the end, for what they perceived to be their local interests, those who still wavered often chose sides on the Canal Bill based on their more general sentiments about the controversial Clinton, rather than on the merits of the waterway.^" In 8 17, the bill passed by a comfortable, if not overwhelming, majority. It established the Canal Fund, administered by sources: a loan from the state, to be repaid from toll revenue; the sale of land donated to the state by land speculators who hoped to profit from soaring property values if the canal sucwere designated for the Canal Fund; and taxes. The taxes, in particular, were designed to ensure that those who benefited most from the Canal would contribute the greatest amount to the expense of building and maintaining it. The state levied taxes on salt (abundant in the Canal region); steamboat travel (which would increase along the Hudson with the opening of the Canal); and land within twenty-five miles of the Canal (property whose values would certainly increase from easy access to the market).

Finally, the bill authorized the beginning of construction on the "Western Canal," as the Erie was often called in the early years, as well as the "Northern Canal," running between Albany and Lake Champlain. Also known.as the Champlain Canal, the sixtysix-mile northern waterway had been part of the compromise to win approval from that part of the state. ^^ The exact route of the Western Canal continued to be the subject of political wrangling even after 1817. The Canal Bill divided the Canal into three sections, but it provided for construction on the middle section only, the stretch of canal running between the Mohawk and Seneca rivers. The exact course of the the funding for their construction. Since the middle section would improve navigation in the upstate region regardless of whether the other two sections ever came into being, politicians to oversee such a mammoth public works project, much larger than any other in the modern world. The middle section also hoped to bolster public confidence in the larger project by showing early signs of success; future funding depended on that confidence.

Decisions about building the other sections came gradually over the next few years. Meanwhile, communities distant from the original Canal petitioned for the building of lateral constructed eight other canals, and scores of smaller tributary waterways, it undertook only two projects between 18 17 and 1825: the Erie Canal and the much shorter Champlain Canal. -^ of July was not, of course, mere coincidence. Then, as now, the Fourth was a day of national unity, when Americans put aside

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sheriff, Carol. *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Carol Sheriff, *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862* (Hill and Wang, 1996), 21–22.

Shortened citation:

Sheriff, *The Artificial River*, 21–22.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.16

Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890

Carter Goodrich

SELECTION	GAT,LATIN'SPROPOSALSAND ACTUAL CONSTRUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 35–36 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1960.

Excerpt

Tear Year abancompUted don ed

Agency

Actual comtruction

Gallatin's propotaU

The Four Necks of Land

Private Private

Cape Cod Canal

Cape Cod New Jersey

Delaware and Raritan Canal Chesapeake and Delaware

Mixed (federal, state,

Delaware and private) Mixed (federal, state,

Canal Dismal Swamp Canal

Chesapeake Bay Chesapeake Bay private) to Albemarle Sound

The Northern Opening

Champlain Canal

State

Hudson to Lake Champlain Mohawk to Lakes On-

Erie Canal Oswego Canal New York Central Rail-

State State Mainly private * tario and Erie road

The Four Pairs of Rivers State 1834

(1) Allegheny-Juni-

Main Line—Pennsylvania ata, Susquehanna

State Works Philadelphia & Columbia R.R. Susquehanna and Juniata Divisions (Canal) Portage Railroad Western Division Canal Pennsylvania Railroad

Mixed (local government, private) Federal Government

National (Cumberland)

(2) Monongahela- Road Chesapeake & Ohio Canal

Potomac Mixed (federal, state, local government, private) Mixed (state, local gov-

Baltimore & Ohio Railroad

1853 > ernment, private) Mixed (state, local gov-

(3) Kanawha-James

James River & Kanawha ernment, private) Mixed (state, local gov-

Canal Chesapeake & Ohio Railernment, private) ' Mixed (state, local govroad Blue Ridge Railroad

(4) Tennessee-Savanernment, private) nah, Santee

• Local aid between Albany and Schenectady. b Philadelphia & Columbia section purchased from state. c Two of its components, the Blue Ridge Railroad (of Virginia) and the Covington & Ohio, were built as state works. The state's interest was sold to private purchasers before the railroad was completed to the Ohio River.

d 1841, Albany to Buffalo. 1851, Hudson River Railroad from New York City. New York Central Railroad formed by consolidation in 1853. River at Albany not bridged until 1866. "To Pittsburgh; Wheeling; Wheeling; and Huntington, W. Va. respectively. ' Further work abandoned. “No significant date can be assigned. Different sections of the road fell into disuse at different times. The present U.S. Route 40 follows much of its course.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Goodrich, Carter. *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1960.

Footnote citation:

Carter Goodrich, *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890* (Columbia University Press, 1960), 35–36.

Shortened citation:

Goodrich, *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890*, 35–36.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.17

A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic

Donald R. Kennon, ed.

SELECTION	The Capital and the State
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 65–66 · Supplied edition: Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999.

Excerpt

Although this is not the place to undertake a long overdue assessment of the recently fashionable state concept in American historical scholarship, it is clear at least that, in order to even begin to conceive and write a full history of the American national state (to say nothing of every other), one has to commence at the state's inception—in the American case with its eighteenthcentury founding." In doing that, we find ourselves forced to take up a large number of subjects—such as territoriality, citizenship, jurisprudence, taxation, religious culture, and voluntarism, to name only some of them—of which any complete history of the American national state must be composed but which have not yet been considered as having anything to do with the nature of the American state. When we do take them up, the history of both those subjects and of the state itself begins to assume some surprisingly fresh colorations. One of these subjects is the link between a national state and its capital city. A nation's capital is, after all, the manifest center from which state sovereignty emanates, from which a government's authority is formally accumulated and exercised; it is the community in which the government resides; its buildings and monuments symbolize the power and majesty of rule. In the United States, the capital, rather than emerging from beyond recorded history as the first among many market towns or military strongholds, is the city originally chosen, planned, and set-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kennon, Donald R., ed. *A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Donald R. Kennon, ed., *A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic* (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999), 65–66.

Shortened citation:

ed., *A Republic for the Ages*, 65–66.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.18

The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860

George Rogers Taylor

SELECTION	THE CANAL ERA
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 49–50 · Supplied edition: Rinehart, 1951.

Excerpt

Congress denied help to the state of New York in building the Erie, but it later made substantial contributions toward the construc¬ tion of other canals. By 1860 the federal government had granted approximately 4,000,000 acres of the public domain to canal projects in Ohio, Michigan, Indiana, Illinois, and Wisconsin. In addition, it had subscribed over $3,000,000 to the stock of canal companies, the chief beneficiary being the Chesapeake and Ohio.

But it was the states which made the major capital contributions, and to a large extent they themselves built and operated these water¬ ways. As has been shown, New York, Pennsylvania, Ohio, and Indi¬ ana adopted plans for extensive artificial waterway systems. The state governments were generally in a very favorable position to raise the unprecedented amounts necessary to build these ambitious pub¬ lic works. At the beginning of the canal-building era their debts were small, revenues from investment appreciable, and, for most, taxes very low indeed. Their reputation for meeting their obligations inspired the confidence of investors both in America and abroad, and the large revenues received by New York from Erie tolls seemed to assure the soundness of similar ventures. Prosperity and generally rising prices aided during the early thirties, and the act of 1836, dis¬ tributing the federal surplus to the states, provided vital support just as the strain of large state financing was beginning to be felt. Moreover, Indiana and Ohio were encouraged by large federal land grants, and Pennsylvania received in 1836 the promise of $2,500,000 in connection with the granting of a state charter to the second Bank of the United States. But by the early forties the period of expansion was over and almost every state was in financial difficulties. Whereas the amount of state bonds issued in 1820—1824 had been only $13,- 000,000, it rose to $108,000,000 in 1835-1837. Over $60,000,000 of this debt was incurred for canal-building purposes. Indiana and Pennsylvania were virtually bankrupt, Ohio's credit was badly strained, and even New York was forced, for a time, to suspend all canal-building activities.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taylor, George Rogers. *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*. Economic History of the United States 4. New York: Rinehart, 1951.

Footnote citation:

George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (Rinehart, 1951), 49–50.

Shortened citation:

Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*, 49–50.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.19

Bond of Union: Building the Erie Canal and the American Empire

Gerard Koeppel

SELECTION	Erie Rise and Fall
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 93–94 · Supplied edition: Da Capo Press, 2009.

Excerpt

By the end of the interview, though, Madison "was in a better disposition," and three days later he delivered to Congress a message that gave New York's envoys some reason for hope. Madison commended New York's "honorable spirit of enterprise" and noted the national "as well as more limited" objects. Without naming Gallatin but invoking "the signal advantages to be derived to the United States, from a general system of internal communication and conveyance," the president called on Congress to take "whatever steps may be proper on their part, towards its introduction and accomplishment." A dance of many steps ensued. On the day that Madison gave his message to Congress, the New Yorkers met at the Treasury Department with Gallatin. They found him, in the tenth of his record thirteen years as Treasury secretary, still eager to implement his 1808 national improvements plan. He had devised a new financing scheme: not dollars directly from a Treasury surplus that had evaporated, but federal land grants that states, upon completion of a canal or road project, could redeem for cash when the Treasury was "in a more prosperous condition." This concept was a modification of Porter's land-based financing proposal of the previous year and struck Morris and Clinton more favorably than other ideas they heard directly or indirectly during the early days of their Washington visit. One idea in circulation was a constitutional amendment allowing the federal government to make canals and roads and incorporate banks without the consent of states. Promoted by supporters of a new national bank, this proposal was "worse than useless" in occasions, a decided opinion" against it. Linking canals and banks was dangerous business, and strict constructionist Madison was clearly averse

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Koeppel, Gerard. *Bond of Union: Building the Erie Canal and the American Empire*. Cambridge, MA: Da Capo Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Gerard Koeppel, *Bond of Union: Building the Erie Canal and the American Empire* (Da Capo Press, 2009), 93–94.

Shortened citation:

Koeppel, *Bond of Union*, 93–94.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.20

Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	THE PROBLEMS WITH STATE INITIATIVES
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 86–87 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Excerpt

nia Main Line and its primary source of anticipated revenue—did not begin until 1834, long after interest on debt had overwhelmed revenues from fragmentary branch operations. The system truly was an engineering marvel in its day—running 395 miles from Philadelphia to Pittsburgh (including 36 miles of Allegheny Portage Railway and 82 miles of railroad from Philadelphia to the Susquehanna), climbing 2,322 feet above sea level (compared to Erie's 650) with 174 locks, an 800-foot tunnel, and ten inclined planes, five on each side of the mountains, equipped with stationary winding engines to haul up or lower the barges. Unfortunately, the Main Line never facilitated the interregional trade, never serviced its own debt, and never poured revenues into the coffers of the state quite the way the Erie did in New York. Perhaps most cruelly, the necessary substitution of railways for canals in parts of the Pennsylvania system helped demonstrate the merits of the railroads themselves; and once perfected by experience, railroads displaced the canals, whose own perfection had been proclaimed so recently.

Before it had much chance to repay its long-suffering promoters, the Pennsylvania Main Line confronted competition from a new Baltimore & Ohio Railroad and, after 1846, from a private Pennsylvania Railroad Company as well.?"

What went wrong in Pennsylvania's internal improvement movement? Historical economist Julius Rubin, laboring meticulously with reason and hindsight, has shown that Pennsylvania enjoyed "a real choice of methods" and that clearly "a mistake was made." Carey and his Main Line enthusiasts ignored common logic, suppressed evidence, and otherwise manipulated events to prevent the adoption of a railway system—or, more accurately, to avoid the delay any railroad design necessarily entailed. Their behavior rested neither on science nor venal selfish interests but on a matrix of assumptions about government, society, human nature, and economic development that clearly justified (in their own minds) the most stubborn perseverance. New York, as a state, was growing rich off the Erie Canal. Only states, they reasoned, could mount such expensive public works, and those that did so would reap irreversible rewards.

Common voters naturally would shrink from bold initiatives and public debt, while private buyers and sellers just as naturally would drift into subservience to out-of-state markets unless the state of Pennsylvania gave them better ones. Once diverted by the designs of ambitious neighbors, local taxpayers in much of Pennsylvania never would support public works of their own. The commonwealth itself, in this disastrous scenario, would be recolonized by New York, Virginia, even Maryland."8 In 1825 Philadelphia's merchant elites perceived a last fleeting chance to bind their restless neighbors in an all-Pennsylvania market network. They dared not wait, or all would be lost. They could not back the visionary railroads: how could any responsible government overlook the stunning example of New York's canal initiative and plunge instead into an untried railway scheme? Technical measurements alone could not address the subtle links between political and economic culture that marked the trauma of internal improvement in Pennsylvania. Questions of pride, sovereignty, and public honor played as great a part as calculations of expense, elevation, and tolls. Carey himself penned an explanation in 1831 for the disappointments of the state public works. These "magnificent projects," worthy of the "influential citizens" who planned them and the "powerful state" that undertook them, had been hobbled by two "radical" mistakes. First, fearing loss of support from disappointed voters, legislators committed to "too many objects simultaneously," driving up immediate expenses while fatally postponing the start of profitable through traffic. The second "egregious error" lay in not providing for initial interest from an

independent source of revenue (such as New York's salt tax and auction duties). This too Carey blamed on the politicians' "paltry dread of unpopularity." Yet despite crippling failures of statesmanship, Carey still believed the Mainline system would achieve its original objective—ensuring the survival of Pennsylvania as an independent state by engendering prosperity among its citizens. The Keystone State possessed better resources than New York, more valuable exports (salt, iron, and coal), and a shorter winter; there was no reason to doubt that its canal would have a similar effect.

Besides, considering the $15 million pumped into the state economy, plus untold millions in ancillary economic development, rising land values, and the immeasurable elevation of the "character" of the citizens, Pennsylvania already enjoyed a fair value for the investment—and still had reason to believe that "in fifteen or twenty years, the surplus revenues" would pay off the debt and "afford a fund for the support of government, and ample provisions for public schools." Against this cornucopia of present and future blessings was charged a mere $775,000 in annual interest, most of which would be covered by canal tolls as early as next year." Self-justifying as it seems in retrospect, Carey's explanation perfectly reflected the character and purpose of internal improvement as it was understood in his generation. Pennsylvania's plunge into internal improvements was guided by a remnant of the old commercial gentry hoping to preserve their sovereign state and fend off the chaos of unguided competition in either the political or economic marketplace.

Reasoning as statesmen rather than entrepreneurs, they thought they did the "prudent" thing in copying the tested New York model; reacting as gentlemen whose prerogative was under siege, they dismissed the advocates of railroads as obfuscators in disguise. About the railroads they could not have been more wrong; about the danger of intercity rivalry, however, they were essentially correct. Confronted with fierce competition, Pennsylvania leaders concluded that they simply had to promote development. What they failed to understand was that states could not entirely control the market revolution no matter where and how they built their improvements.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States* (University of North Carolina Press, 2001), 86–87.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *Internal Improvement*, 86–87.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.21

A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War

John Majewski

SELECTION	Urban Capital and Pennsylvania's Transportation Network 1
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 119–120 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

The Tra nsition from State to Urban Investment in Pennsylvania

The financial failures of Pennsylvania's canals created a series of finan¬ cial emergencies that pushed Pennsylvania perilously close to bank¬ ruptcy. The Mainline's revenues were never enough to repay the inter¬ est on the loans that financed the improvement. The costly lateral canals that became part of the Mainline's political package further undermined the state's shaky financial situation, as these projects rarely covered their operating and repair expenses. Pennsylvania's spending policy depended upon a fresh infusion of loans and credit, which became increasingly difficult to find in tbe aftermath of the

Panic of 1837. Faced with a rapidly mounting debt, in 1842 the state government suspended payments to the state's creditors while halting construction on works in progress.

.Although the state would not give up on its canal system for another 15 years, the financial woes of the Pennsylvania government led to a general retrenchment of state expenditures that left most new trans¬ portation projects to local governments and private investors. State investment resumed in 1846 and continued until 1858, with the legis¬ lature spending $6 million to finish some of the branch canals and repair the Mainline. Amounting to only $500,000 per year, these expenditures never approached the size of the large appropriations of the 1830s and early 1840s. The state also dramatically curtailed investment in turnpike, bridge, and railroad corporations, deciding to auction off its shares in these enterprises in 1843. State investment in Pennsylvania's railroad network was therefore relatively unimpor¬ tant. As Table 5. shows, it never exceeded $700,000, a minuscule amount given that the capital stock of Pennsylvania's railroad network in i860 was more than $82 million.

In the absence of significant state investment, local governments particularly those of Philadelphia and Pittsburgh - picked up the slack. Pennsylvania localities invested a total of $18 million in railroad companies, with the Philadelphia and Pittsburgh areas accounting for more than 85 percent of all local investment. The rest oflocal expen¬ ditures were spread out over a number of towns and counties attempt¬ ing to build branch roads or local feeders. That Philadelphia and Pittsburgh dominated municipal investment is not at all surprising. In

1850, Philadelphia and Allegheny Counties accounted for 25 percent of Pennsylvania's total population and more than 75 percent of the state's manufacturing output. Each city, disappointed with the canal system's inability to capture western trade, had wealthy and influential residents eager to invest in railroads that would extend markets for their new mills, foundries, and factories. The population and wealth of Philadelphia and Pittsburgh also created large tax bases that allowed the two cities (at least in theory) to pay back municipal debts necessary to fund large railroad investments.~' Philadelphia had the additional advantage of serving as the state's banking headquarters, giving the city government easier access to capital markets and finan¬ cial expertise. By the late 1840s Philadelphia and Pittsburgh no longer needed the rest of the state to finance a central trunk line.

Historians have often thought of urban expenditures as just another form of government investment, but the advantages of municipal investment over state investment were pronounced.Although Penn¬ sylvania municipalities made their fair share of mistakes in railroad investments, at least local governments did not have to bargain with remote rural areas, thereby dispensing with the costly logrolling asso¬ ciated with the fractious state legislature. Even the choice of a project's exact route was easier, as more attention could be paid to economic factors rather than

satisfying political allies in the state legislature.

The rapid and profitable expansion of the Pennsylvania Railroad reflected the advantages of urban investment. The PRR, chartered in

1846, received more than a third of all local investment when Phila¬ delphia county purchased $5 million worth of shares and Allegheny county invested another $1 million. Completed in 1853 from Harris¬ burg to Pittsburgh, the Pennsylvania Railroad was the key link of an all¬ rail route from Philadelphia to the Ohio River. Without the decisive investments from Pittsburgh and Philadelphia, the PRR would probably not have begun construction in 1853, much less finished its mainline.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Majewski, John. *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

John Majewski, *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War* (Cambridge University Press, 2000), 119–120.

Shortened citation:

Majewski, *A House Dividing*, 119–120.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.22

Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860

Louis Hartz

SELECTION	THE PUBLIC WORKS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 101–102 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1948.

Excerpt

During the early forties a movement got under way to sell the public works to private investors, and by 1859 nota single section of the system remained in the hands of the state. The emergence of the sale movement was directly related to the state's financial embarrassment which came to a head in the issuance of interest certificates in 1842. Under the spur of immediate need for funds the state turned to the possibility of works liquidation as it turned to the disposal of its mixed corporation holdings. Maladministration of the works system, moreover, helped to induce disillusionment with public management. As effective corporate enterprises began to appear in the transportation field, that maladministration began to take on greater significance. In an earlier chapter I pointed out that, mainly under the impact of the sectional drive for commercial aggrandizement, railroads were chartered which competed deleteriously with the public works. In 1841 the state treasurer listed this competition as one of the principal causes of the financial crisis. A significant aspect of the relation between the new corporations and the public administration is revealed in the fact that many of them derived personnel from men who had originally gained experience on the state system. President Thomson of the Pennsylvania Railroad Company had previously served as an engineer on the Philadelphia and Columbia line of the works. In 1854 Governor Bigler bitterly remarked that the public system had become "a species of Normal schools for the education of engineers and supervisors to take charge of other improvements." The state could not compete with the drive of the emergent railroad capitalists.

Economically the works were a failure. Even had the system been well administered, technological change would have made it obsolescent; a canal-rail system could not survive in a railroad age. "It was an amphibious connexion of land and water," wrote Job Tyson to a London friend concerning the works in 1852, "happily elucidating the defects peculiar to both modes of transit, with the advantages of neither." The Pennsylvania system could not even compete successfully with the Erie Canal. The route from the Ohio to Philadelphia was, it is true, over two hundred miles shorter than the route to New York provided by the Erie. But the Main Line, stretching over the Alleghenies and involving changes from canal to rail shipment, made the Pennsylvania route less effective and more expensive. A writer in Hunt's Merchants' Magazine, surveying the situation, concluded that Philadelphia must give up its dream of commercial greatness and concentrate upon industrial development instead.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hartz, Louis. *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1948.

Footnote citation:

Louis Hartz, *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860* (Harvard University Press, 1948), 101–102.

Shortened citation:

Hartz, *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought*, 101–102.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.23

Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861

Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin

SELECTION	OMMONWEALTH
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 184–185 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969.

Excerpt

To achieve their objectives, the merchants turned naturally to the state. An unfriendly national administration left little hope of federal aid, and individuals were slow to take the initiative or risk.6 An unsuccessful petition requesting state subscription to the Gloucester Canal to Boston pointed out:

A few only of the most enterprizing citizens of Gloucester appear to be engaged in the work as proprietors, and as they are actively en¬ gaged in commerce, and prefer to employ their capital in commercial pursuits; they are desirous that the Commonwealth from the public utility of the project should bear a part of the cost.

The most direct and powerful means of improvements seemed to rest in the Commonwealth. 'Many things,' it was acknowl¬ edged, 'should no doubt be left to individual enterprize,' but transportation 'may and ought to receive a salutary stimulus from well timed public encouragement.'

General agreement about the need for government aid did not forestall tedious disagreement about its form, disagree¬ ment that delayed every positive step for more than a decade. Tentative attempts to meet the problem came early and accel¬ erated after the Treaty of Ghent. Fears that the Connecticut River trade would drift to New York led to a demand in 1814 for a westward link. Two years later, the legislature appointed Loammi Baldwin and John Farrar to report on a canal to unite the Connecticut and Merrimack rivers. In 1818, Bald¬ win, drawing on his experience as engineer for Virginia, sug¬ gested that Massachusetts follow the example of that state in creating a board of public works, a mammoth public holding corporation, to gather information, plan, and invest in inter¬ nal improvements. The Empire State's Erie Canal quick¬ ened interest in his proposal for a canal from Boston to the Hudson. 'Enough has been executed in the State of New York,'wrote an influential contemporary, 'to convince the most sceptical, that Massachusetts must be intersected by canals, or the capital will suffer.'

But the emergence of a new factor put off action. The feasibility of the Granite Railroad, chartered to carry stone to the Bunker Hill Monument, struck a deathblow at canal projects, particularly in Massachusetts, where mountains tow¬ ered between Boston and the Hudson Valley. T. H. Per¬ kins' petition for a railroad to Albany and Governor Lincoln's warning that others were outdistancing the Bay State led to the appointment of a legislative committee and the review in the next few years of the various projects.

Farmers, attracted by easier markets for their products, regarded the proposed road favorably at this time. In the west, local committees of correspondence organized to press vigorously for it. The Blackstone Canal opening the interior business of. Massachusetts to Providence added a forceful point to their arguments. Meanwhile, the growing city of Worces¬ ter, until then a village of four thousand, demanded connec¬ tion with the seaboard. Impressed by the urgency, a new Board of Directors of Internal Improvement, led by Nathan Hale, recommended a railroad via Worcester and Springfield to Albany, and warned that 'the assistance of the Government in some manner and to some extent... must be given to the work.'6

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Handlin, Oscar, and Mary Flug Handlin. *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861*. Rev. ed. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin, *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969), 184–185.

Shortened citation:

Handlin, *Commonwealth*, 184–185.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.24

The Visible Hand: The Managerial Revolution in American Business

Alfred D. Chandler Jr.

SELECTION	ok1
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1977.

Excerpt

The third proposition is that modern business enterprise appeared for the first time in history when the volume of economic activities reached a level that made administrative coordination more efficient and more profitable than market coordination.

Such an increase in volume of activity came with new technology and expanding markets. New technology made possible an unprecedented output and movement of goods. Enlarged markets were essential to absorb such output. Therefore modern business enterprise first appeared, grew, and continued to flourish in those sectors and industries characterized by new and advancing technology and by expanding markets. Conversely in those sectors and industries where technology did not bring a sharp increase in output and where markets remained small and specialized, administrative coordination was rarely more profitable than market coordination. In those areas modern business enterprise was late in appearing and slow in spreading.

The fourth proposition is that once a managerial hierarchy had been formed and had successfully carried out its function of administrative coordination, the hierarchy itself became a source of permanence, power, and continued growth.

In Werner Sombart's phrase, the modern business enterprise took on "a life of its own.?' Traditional enterprises were normally short-lived. They were almost always partnerships which were reconstituted or disbanded at the death o~ retirement of a partner. If a son carried on the father's business, he found new partners. Often the partnership was disbanded when one 'partner decided he wanted to work with another businessman. On the other hand, the hierarchies that came to manage the new multiunit enterprises had a permanence beyond that of any individual or group of individuals who worked in them. When a manager died, retired, was promoted, or left an office, another was ready and trained to take his place. Men came and went. The institution and its offices remained.

The fifth proposition is that the careers of the salaried managers who directed these hierarchies became increasingly technical and professional.

In these new business bureaucracies, as in other administrative hierarchies requiring specialized skills, selection and promotion became increasingly based on training, experience, and performance rather than on family relationship or money. With the coming of modern business enterprise, the businessman, for the first time, could conceive of a lifetime career involving a climb up the hierarchical ladder. In such enterprises, managerial training became increasingly longer and more formalized. Managers carrying out similar activities in different enterprises often had the same type of training and attended the same types of schools. They read the same journals and joined the same associations. They had an approach to their work that was closer to that of lawyers, doctors, and ministers than that of the owners and managers of small traditional business enterprises.

The sixth proposition is that as the multiunit business enterprise grew in size and diversity and as its managers became more professional, the management of the enterprise became separated from its ownership.

The rise of modern business enterprise brought a new definition of the relationship between ownership and management and therefore a new type of capitalism to the American economy. Before the appearance of the multiunit firm, owners managed and managers owned. Even when partnerships began to incorporate, their capital

stock stayed in the hands of a few individuals or families. These corporations remained single-unit enterprises which rarely hired more than two or three managers. The traditio~al capitalist firm can, therefore, be properly termed a personal enterprIse.

From its very beginning, however, modern business enterprise required more managers than a family or its associates could provide. In some firms the entrepreneur and his close associates (and their families) who built the enterprise continued to hold the majority of stock. They maintained a close personal relationship with their managers, and they retained a major say in top management decisions, particularly those concerning financial policies, allocation of resources, and the selection of senior managers. Such a modern business enterprise may be termed an entrepreneurial or family one, and an economy or sectors of an economy dominated by such firms may be considered a system of entrepreneurial or family capitalism.

Where the creation and growth of an enterprise required large sums of outside capital, the relationship between ownership and management differed. The financial institutions providing the funds normally placed part-time representatives on the firm's board. In such enterprises, salaried managers had to share top management decisions, particularly those involving the raising and spending of large sums of capital, with representatives of banks and other financial institutions. An economy or sector controlled by such firms has often been termed one of financial capitalism.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Chandler, Alfred D., Jr. *The Visible Hand: The Managerial Revolution in American Business*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1977.

Footnote citation:

Alfred D. Chandler Jr., *The Visible Hand: The Managerial Revolution in American Business* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1977), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Chandler, *The Visible Hand*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.25

The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution

Charles R. Morris

SELECTION	THE DAWN OF INNOVATION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 92–93 · Supplied edition: PublicAffairs, 2012.

Excerpt

But Lowell Invents a New Kind of Company Samuel Slater was a fine technologist, but Francis Cabot Lowell was a visionary who, within just a few years in a sadly short career, created a uniquely American textile industry.!º Born into one of Boston's elite merchant and shipping families, Lowell did a stint on one of the family merchantmen, concentrated on mathematics at Harvard, went into one of the family countinghouses, and eventually prospered in his own trading business. His health seems to have been delicate, and in 1810, at age thirtyfive, wealthy but worn down by the constant stresses of his business," he took his family on an extended trip abroad. Wartime conditions curtailed plans for a continental tour, so the family spent most of their two-year sojourn in Scotland and England.

Whether Lowell intended to pirate British technology from the start isn't clear, but he made no doubt of his intentions when he met Nathan Appleton, his fellow Bostonian and merchant, in Scotland early in his trip. "Cotton Manufacture" was Lowell's primary focus, Appleton later recalled, for he thought it the kind of business that, if properly set up, could produce a reliable stream of steady, stress-free profits.

Lowell's mercantile friends gained him access to the mills; one can imagine him strolling through the plants, feigning languorous inattention while picking up countless trade secrets—the process flows, the details of gearing, and much else. Before he embarked for America, he also managed to secure copies of machine drawings that he slipped by customs. If that story is true, it seems vaguely dishonorable, and his friends may have been embarrassed when it was revealed what he had been up to.

When Lowell returned to Boston, he set about organizing his Boston Manufacturing Company. Everything about it was bold. The War of 1812 * Nineteenth-century upper-class work schedules were generally quite leisurely, but commercial business was inherently stressful because of the large fraction of one's wealth constantly at risk. Ships were lost, commodity prices see-sawed. trade bills defaulted Cycles of credit ex. was just underway, and Massachusetts mercantile houses were staring at economic disaster. (Lowell's return ship, in fact, was taken by a British frigate, and he was briefly held in Nova Scotia.) It was created as a jointstock company, an unusual form for the time, which preferred partnerships. The initial financing goal was enormous: $400,000, forty times more than the start-up investment in the first Brown-Almy-Slater spinning mill. But Lowell wanted to be absolutely sure of enough capital to carry the business through any reasonable early setbacks. His circular letter proposed an offering of one hundred shares, at $4,000 apiece, $1,000 of which would be paid at closing, with the remainder drawn from time to time as the company required.

The initial investors were an extremely tight group. Lowell's brotherin-law, Patrick Tracy Jackson, with whom he was quite close, took twenty shares, and Lowell himself took fifteen. Jackson was appointed agent, effectively the CEO of the new company.

The remaining shares were very much a "friends and family" offering. Jackson's two brothers took fifteen; two of Jackson's in-laws, John Gore and James Lloyd, took fifteen; while two of Lowell's relatives, Benjamin Gorham and Warren Dutton, took five between them. The roster was rounded out from among their merchant friends. The senior and junior Israel Thorndikes took twenty, and Uriah Cutting took five. The remaining five went to Nathan Appleton, who hesitated considerably before investing. He was probably the wealthiest of Lowell's close friends, and his reluctance evidences the skittishness of the investment climate.

Lowell's mother's family, the Cabots, declined to invest at all. They and other Bostonians, after all, had built fortunes importing British goods. Many of them had been burned two decades previously by the Beverly Cotton Manufactory, an ill-starred, pre-Slater spinning venture that required an embarrassing bailout from the state legislature.

The first critical hire outside the group was Paul Moody, a brilliant young machinist. Lowell had approached Jacob Perkins, a machinist, nail manufacturer, and prolific inventor, to join the enterprise. Perkins recom-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Morris, Charles R. *The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution*. New York: PublicAffairs, 2012.

Footnote citation:

Charles R. Morris, *The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution* (PublicAffairs, 2012), 92–93.

Shortened citation:

Morris, *The Dawn of Innovation*, 92–93.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.26

Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819

Francis N. Stites

SELECTION	Blasted Hopes
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 53–54 · Supplied edition: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Excerpt

Private corporations, such as banks, insurance and manu¬ facturing companies, Judge Richardson said, were created for the immediate benefit and advantage of individuals. The property and franchises of private corporations belonged to individuals under the corporate form. Towns and other public corporations were created for public purposes. Their property and franchises were devoted to the object of their incorpora¬ tion, and the corporators enjoyed no private right other than that of being members. It was only necessary to determine in this case whether the objects for which Dartmouth College was created were public or private. The endowment was of no consequence, since a corporation held property only to enable it to answer the object of its creation, and a gift to a corpora¬ tion was a gift to those interested in its objects.

Richardson examined the College charter and found that Dartmouth had been incorporated to spread Christianity and knowledge among the Indians and to furnish the best means of education to New Hampshire. “These great purposes are surely, if anything can be, matters of public concern.”68 Since the object was public, Dartmouth College was a public corporation, and the office of trustee was a public trust, as much as the office of governor or judge. As public servants, the trustees had no private right, other than that of being mem¬ bers of the corporation, which they could claim the June act in final form had infringed. Indeed, only the state had an in¬ terest, and so there was no founder whose rights the trustees could assert. Law, Richardson declared, was only the will of the sovereign people, and the public servants, the trustees, could not resist the master’s will in a matter that concerned the master alone. With this established, he did not think it necessary to inquire into the legislature’s right to interfere with private corporations. But he did admit that the property of private corporations would stand on the same ground as that of individuals.

In answer to Mason’s argument that the 1816 acts violated Article 15 of the New Hampshire bill of rights and its “law of the land” clause, Richardson contended that all statutes, not repugnant to any other clauses in the constitution, “seem al¬ ways to have been considered as ‘the law of the land,’ within the meaning of the clause.” The principle that these acts were not “law of the land” because they interfered with private rights “would probably make our whole statute book a dead letter.”69 All public interests, including public corporations, were proper subjects of legislation, and every statute inter¬ fered either directly or indirectly with private rights. Richard¬ son said that the “law of the land” clause had historically been a restraint only upon the executive, and, consequently, it embraced legislative enactments as well as judicial pro¬ nouncements. His interpretation of the contract clause hinged upon the definition of Dartmouth as a public corporation.

Arguing that the contract clause was intended to protect private rights and that the contract decisions of the Supreme Court had con¬ cerned only legislative grants of privileges or property to in¬ dividuals, the Chief Justice maintained that that clause was not intended “to limit the power of the states, in relation to their own public officers and servants, or to their own civil institutions.”70 The opposite view would place public institu¬ tions beyond state control and would be repugnant to the principles of all government. The court, therefore, was clearly of the opinion that the char¬ ter of Dartmouth College was not a contract within the mean¬ ing of Article I, section 10 of the national Constitution. The 1816 acts were clearly constitutional, and judgment was given for the defendant. Richardson concluded that he was greatly consoled by knowledge that any errors in his decision would be corrected and prevented from working any injustice.

The Trustees could "carry the cause to another tribunal, where it can be reexamined, and our judgment reversed, or affirmed, as the law of the case may seem to that tribunal to require."71 It should be noted that Richardson's classification of cor¬ porations enabled him to imply that private corporate charters would be considered contracts under the Constitution. All agreed that some corporations were controllable by the legis¬ lature, but there was, as the arguments in Superior Court demonstrated, disagreement about the criterion for classify¬ ing corporations as public, for permitting regulation. Richard¬ son, like Woodward's counsel, emphasized the objects; Col¬ lege counsel had stressed the origins, the sources of the funds. The case would ultimately turn on that criterion.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stites, Francis N. *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819*. Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Footnote citation:

Francis N. Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819* (University of Massachusetts Press, 1972), 53–54.

Shortened citation:

Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain*, 53–54.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.27

The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860

George Rogers Taylor

SELECTION	RAILROADS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 97–98 · Supplied edition: Rinehart, 1951.

Excerpt

Although public agencies provided a substantial share of rail¬ road capital during the period covered by this study, the role of the private investors was also important. As with the turnpike companies, many of the early railroads secured most of their private capital from merchants, small manufacturers, farmers, and professional men liv¬ ing along the proposed route of the new railroad. These investors bought stock in the hope that land values would rise and general business prosperity result from improved transportation, not for the most part because they sought safe or profitable investment for their small savings. This was especially true of many of the early short lines built in the East, which at the time did not seem to promise clear advantage to any of the few large cities in the country. Thus, the Auburn and Rochester Railroad Company, chartered in

1836, appears to have been financed almost exclusively by small investors living in the towns, villages, and farms along its route.5 In Massachusetts, farmers contributed substantially to the building of the Greenfield and Northampton Railroad. Capital for the New London, Willimantic and Palmer Railroad came largely from New London businessmen who had made fortunes in whaling. Aid from city capitalists sometimes was contingent upon local stock purchases. Citizens of the little town of Amherst, Massachusetts, invested heavily in the Amherst and Belchertown Railroad on the promise of aid from New London interests. Private capital for southern railroads, es¬ pecially the smaller and more remote lines, came largely from small local investors whose interest was nonspeculative and indirect.

In the West also the earliest roads were often but short affairs. Unable to attract eastern capital, they depended upon the limited accumulations of local residents, including those of small farmers and artisans. Even when eastern promoters came in and built longer lines, great pressure was exerted to get help from persons liv¬ ing along the projected railroad, including those who had little or no liquid capital. Larmers, hopeful of the benefits to be derived from cheapened transportation, were persuaded to accept railroad stock in exchange for mortgages on their farms. These mortgages, sold in eastern markets by the railroads, provided money for construction expenses. From 1850 through 1857 Wisconsin farmers mortgaged their property for between $4,500,000 and $5,000,000 in order to supply capital for railroad building.

But most of the available capital funds in private hands was to be found in the eastern seaport cities. Here again the lure of the in¬ direct benefits to be gained provided the chief attraction for capital. Moreover, interest in such investment was greatly heightened by the bitter rivalry of the chief ports for what each regarded as its fair share of the commerce of the interior. The leading business and professional men of each city were bound together in a community of interest, in city-states not unlike those of ancient Greece in which the desire for the benefits of commercial growth and prosperity, reinforced by civic pride and local patriotism, led to long and bitter warfare. These intercity struggles, already a factor in the rapid expansion of canals, now became greatly intensified, for railroads could be built where, because of physiographic conditions, canals could not. So it became the object of each city to build railroads which would gather up the trade of the back country and funnel it to its own wharves and ware¬ houses.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taylor, George Rogers. *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*. Economic History of the United States 4. New York: Rinehart, 1951.

Footnote citation:

George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (Rinehart, 1951), 97–98.

Shortened citation:

Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*, 97–98.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.28

The Great Road: The Building of the Baltimore and Ohio, the Nation's First Railroad, 1828–1853

James D. Dilts

SELECTION	Prologue
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Stanford University Press, 1993.

Excerpt

Prologue

Maryland during the first half of the nineteenth century. Building the railroad became Baltimore's greatest civic project. It was considered a national endeavor at the time, and its history is to a large extent the history of all early American railroads.

The Baltimore and Ohio was "the Railroad University of the United States," said the American Railroad Journal in r835. The company's annual reports were "a text book and their road and workshops have been as a lecture room to thousands." A decade later, the journal added that, although the company had paid the price for being a pioneer, "The spirit of the age is onward. Railroads tend to enlarge and liberalize the views of mankind." In 1853, after the B&O had reached the Ohio River, the journal still considered its annual report "a model of its kind, and well worthy the imitation of other companies."

Railroads, and certainly the Baltimore and Ohio, epitomized progress, not only in the development and extension of the Western frontier but in the revelation that personal travel and the delivery of freight could be dramatically faster, better, and cheaper. Even today, in the age of the superhighway and the jet airplane, railroads are still impressive in physical size and meaning in our lives. A train of loaded coal cars, at 20,000 tons or so, is the heaviest thing that moves on land. A modern passenger train is a mobile town with hundreds of inhabitants and all the accommodations necessary to travel3,000 miles across the country.

The Baltimore and Ohio was the first leg of a national rail system. Its early engineers formed the core of the railroad engineering profession in America; their theories of survey and location laid the groundwork for future textbooks. Building the B&O Railroad through 200 miles of mountain wilderness between Cumberland and Wheeling was a major feat of civil engineering. The B&O imported and improved British rail technology and exported the technology (to Russia), one of the first American railroads to do so. It contributed to the domestic industrial revolution by developing the Georges Creek bituminous coal fields, which led to an exponential growth in Maryland's iron and coal industry and added greatly to the economy of the western part of the state.

These events prompted a simultaneous expansion of the port of Baltimore. The railroad left its mark not only on the city's urban geography but also on its eminent educational and cultural institutions. Baltimore's most important philanthropists- George Peabody, Enoch Pratt, William Walters, and Johns Hopkins-were involved with the B&O as investors, directors, or prime clients; the city's renowned university was founded on Baltimore and Ohio Railroad stock.

The B&O set other precedents. Probably the first instance of a bill being "railroaded" through a legislature was the passage of its charter in r827 with the famous tax exemption. Low-ball estimates, construction cost overruns, bank scandals, proxy fights, bribery and corruption of public officials, the revolving door between government service and private consulting, political battles over the importation of foreign steel, and port rate differentials-the subjects of today's headlines-were also news then. The labyrinthine nature of Maryland politics has deep roots.

The enterprise has had several historians, initially William Prescott Smith, who wrote A History and Description of the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad (1853), the Prologue country's first railroad history. There have since been two full-length treatments: Edward Hungerford's centennial history, The Story of the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad (1928), and John Stover's History of the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad (1987), which brought the story up to the present. There have also been several specialized studies, most importantly, Milton Reizenstein, The Economic History of the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad, r827-1853 (1898); J. Snowden Bell, The Early Motive Power of the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad (1912); Festus P. Summers, The Baltimore and Ohio in the Civil War (1939); William Bruce Catton, "John W. Garrett of the Baltimore & Ohio: a Study in Seaport and Railroad Competition, 1820-1874" (unpublished Ph.D. dissertation, 1959); and Herbert H. Harwood, Jr., Impossible Challenge, the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad in Maryland (1979).

This book concentrates on the B&O as the prototypical American railroad during the critical period of its formation and construction. By allowing those who built the railroad to speak for themselves through their own and contemporary accounts, it emphasizes the many types of men who were involved: promoters, financiers, politicians, lawyers, newspaper editors, fixers and bagmen, civil engineers, inventors and mechanics, foremen, contractors, and feuding Irish laborers, who together built the first long-distance, general-purpose railroad in the United States. Their experiences have been gathered from thousands of pages of B&O records and from personal journals and diaries, private correspondence, and pamphlets and newspapers of the time, many of which have not been taken into account by earlier historians of this railroad. It is a story of youth and expansion rather than of maturity and decline, a record of great accomplishment, and severe personal sacrifice.

Some of these builders were giants of the Jacksonian era and of American history: Charles Carroll of Carrollton, who said that the only document he ever signed of greater consequence than the document to incorporate the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad was the Declaration of Independence; Roger Brooke Taney and Daniel Webster, who tried the railroad's, and the state's, "greatest case" against the Chesapeake and Ohio Canal; and Andrew Jackson himself, who stepped into a B&O coach in 1833 for the ride to Baltimore and became the first U.S. president to board a train. Two sons of America's famed early architect Benjamin Henry Latrobe spent their entire professional lives with the railroad: John H. B. Latrobe, the company's general counsel, and Benjamin H. Latrobe, Jr., its chief engineer. Both left voluminous accounts in their diaries and journals, the lawyer's more notable for its lacunae, the engineer's revealing the terrible personal cost of his initial triumph, the Thomas Viaduct, near Baltimore. Peter Cooper and Samuel F. B. Morse found the Baltimore and Ohio a convenient testing ground for their inventions. Alexander Brown and Sons, America's premier merchant bankers, rescued the railroad financially on more than one occasion. Even writers such as John Pendleton Kennedy had important roles to play.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dilts, James D. *The Great Road: The Building of the Baltimore and Ohio, the Nation's First Railroad, 1828–1853*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1993.

Footnote citation:

James D. Dilts, *The Great Road: The Building of the Baltimore and Ohio, the Nation's First Railroad, 1828–1853* (Stanford University Press, 1993), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Dilts, *The Great Road*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.29

Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States

James Willard Hurst

SELECTION	aw and the Conditions of Freedom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 16–17 · Supplied edition: University of Wisconsin Press, 1956.

Excerpt

- men to begin to distinguish among kinds of corporations and to see that there was an emerging demand for a convenient business association, with affairs of limited impact on the community, far removed from high politics.

Thus the grant of corporate status became a notable issue in the years of Jacksonian Democracy. This did, indeed, involve serious issues concerning the power structure of the society; the Jacksonian polemics on this score forecast the issues in the background of the Granger movement and the Sherman Act. But, aside from the sensitive matter of banks, currency, and credit, the demand for freer incorporation, deep down, fitted the dominant temper of the times, Jacksonian as well as Whig. Hence the Jacksonians appear increasingly uncomfortable in their opposition. The special charters which fill so many bulky volumes of state session laws of 1830-1880 are on the whole disappointing to a searcher for melodrama or moral conflict. They tend soon to fall into patterns; quite evidently most of them answered to rather standard demands for the means of reaching rather standard business ends. Mostly their provisions deal with powers or privileges which strike a twentieth-century observer as commonplaces of modern business.

The reader must scan their standardized clauses with a very careful eye if he would find the small variations which may represent the hidden grab or privilege which historical legend associates with the special charter era. When the special provisions are found, few are such as to give rise to any plausible suspicion that they represent sinister gain at the expense of public welfare. The more familiar one becomes with nineteenth-century special charters, the more he suspects that if there was corruption it likely took the form of charging unofficial toll for steering perfectly routine charters through the bustle of a session. Many special charters set limitations on corporate life, on landholdings of the corporation, and on its capital, to remind us of the contemporary distrust. Yet the charters are there on the books by the hundreds. That legislatures filled with turbulent debate over the privilege of incorporation nonetheless ground out special charters in quantity for fifty years indicates that some very basic policy of the times was being fulfilled. The later course of the public debate showed this; with considerable anticlimax, after the melodrama of earlier years, a main argument against continued special chartering came to be that it put an undue drain on the time of legislatures in meeting a standard and routine demand. Jacksonian Democracy reached its resolution of the matter by finding that the public interest was satisfied if the privilege of incorporation for ordinary business purposes was made available to all on equal terms.'[o]

The substance of what business wanted from law was the provision for ordinary use of an organization through which entrepreneurs could better mobilize and release economic energy. Partly this business demand was to get rid of a limiting governmental policy; it sought release of the law's jealously restrictive control over this type of association. But it is characteristic of the nineteenth century that there was here also a demand for positive help from the law. Merely to be let alone to combine capital was not the substance of the entrepreneurs' desire. Here, as so often, a lively and pervasive sense of capital scarcity, relative to our opportunities, supplied the dynamic of public policy. One did not mobilize and discipline scattered resources merely by exhorting government to keep its hands off. Entrepreneurs wanted the positive prestige of the sanction of the state implicit in the charter grant. They wanted the aid of an orderly capital subscription procedure under which capital could be fed into the enterprise on a defined installment plan, with provisions for periodic assessments of stockholders and forfeitures to enforce assessments. The influence of provisions for the limited liability of corporate stockholders for the debts of the business has perhaps been

exaggerated as a source of the pressure for incorporation.

But, whatever the relative weight of this element, there is no doubt that the grant of the limited liability privilege was sought as a positive aid by law to the enlistment of capital. Entrepreneurs wanted, too, a form of organization which firmly and broadly delegated power over mobilized capital to managers and directors.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hurst, James Willard. *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1956.

Footnote citation:

James Willard Hurst, *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (University of Wisconsin Press, 1956), 16–17.

Shortened citation:

Hurst, *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States*, 16–17.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.30

A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War

John Majewski

SELECTION	Railroads and Local Development
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 63–64 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

The Virginia Central needed the enthusiasm of Albemarle resi¬ dents, for almost all of its private capital would come from local investors. Of the 215 names linked from the 1847 list of stockholders to the 1850 census, 84 percent lived in either Albemarle or Augusta county. (Since the Virginia Central quickly extended the railroad to Augusta once it finished the Albemarle section, Augusta residents could expect significant indirect benefits.) Even within Albemarle, investment was extremely localized. Almost go percent of the Albe¬ marle investors linked to the county's property tax records owned property within 5 miles of the road, with half of them living in or near Charlottesville. The merchants and planters living in the rich planta¬ tion district near Scottsville hardly put a dollar in the Virginia Central. Their lack of investment made sense. Why help finance a railroad that would divert trade away from their town?

The local residents who invested in the Virginia Central repre¬ sented the growing diversity of the Albemarle economy. The influence of Albemarle's wealthiest planters had hardly disappeared. Men such as Thomasjefferson Randolph, Alexander Rives, and William C. Rives were among the county's largest slaveholders and the company's largest shareholders. The large number of merchants, professionals, and artisans who invested in the enterprise, however, distinguished the railroad from the county's earlier developmental corporations

(Table 3.1). Whereas wealthy slaveholders had contributed 50 or even 80 percent of the capital for Albemarle's early corporations, they pro¬ vided onlv 24 percent of the railroad's capital. The greater diversity of investors demonstrated that "nothing succeeds like success" when it came to economic development. The earlier improvement of the Rivanna and James Rivers led Charlottesville to grow more populous and more wealthy, thereby creating a new set of potential investors to help fund more ambitious projects. The same interactive dynamic, as will be demonstrated in later chapters, worked on a far larger scale in

Pennsylvania.

Shares of Stock Owned

Average

Average Real Estate

Number of Investors in

Slave Holdings

(percent of sample)

Holdings

Sample

Occupation Large Planters 23 70 (24) $24,874 26 Middling Planters 43 79 (27) $7,125 Small Planters 29 (10) $4,553

Notes and. Sources: Sample consists of 1847 stockholders whose names appear once or twice in 1850 Census index. The table includes only residents of Albemarle County; please see appendix for more precise methods of calculation. Large planters are defined as farmers owning more than 15 slaves; middling planters are defined as owning 6 to 15

slaves; and small planters owned or less. Occupations and real estate holdings calculated from manuscript returns of 1850 census; number of slaves came from 1850 Albemarle Personal Property Tax List, microfilm, VSLA.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Majewski, John. *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

John Majewski, *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War* (Cambridge University Press, 2000), 63–64.

Shortened citation:

Majewski, *A House Dividing*, 63–64.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.31

Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made

Robert F. Dalzell Jr.

SELECTION	Perfecting the Immense Machine
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 82–83 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

Ultimately, companies like the Massachusetts Hospital Life owed their existence to a complex series of investment decisions made over a period of more than thirty years, and without reconstructing those decisions in detail it is impossible to understand how such companies functioned—let alone why they functioned the way they did. With substantial sums to invest and a variety of outlets from which to choose, the Associates allocated resources differently at differ¬ ent times, but the choices were hardly random. Through the years a definite pattern did emerge, implying an equally clear range of objectives. Unquestionably, too, one of the objectives was power, yet never power for its own sake, at least in the eyes of the men them¬ selves. Rather their goal was more precise: above all what they wanted was to protect and perpetuate those gains already achieved in the textile industry. Everything began and ended with the Waltham- Lowell system.

By the time the Associates purchased their first railroad shares, a characteristic model of joint public and private action with regard to transportation had already evolved in Massachusetts. In that sense there was less room for innovation than in other sectors of the econ¬ omy, but the model did allow individuals to vary the level of their participation: they could invest as much or as little as they chose. In the Associates' case a decision to hold investment in turnpikes and canals to a minimum preceded a much heavier—if still limited—com¬ mitment to railroads.

Broadly speaking, the commonwealth's approach to transportation projects left to private investors responsibility for taking both the initiative and the risks. In return, the government granted such in¬ vestors, through charters of incorporation, certain valuable powers— typically the right to take land by eminent domain and permission to charge tolls. In some cases the powers extended farther and included monopoly privileges over specified routes or the right to operate lot¬ teries to raise money. In the bargain it struck with private investors, the government also sacrificed much of the control it might have exercised over the expanding transportation network. Charters of incorporation did impose standards of quality in construction and usually set time limits within which projects had to be completed; upon occasion they even regulated tolls and profits. But exceptions were almost always granted if the original terms proved too confin¬ ing. And as time passed the tendency was to require less in the first place, if only to save the trouble of negotiating new terms later.[5]

In all of this the state gave away a great deal in return for an uncertain and ill-defined promise of gain. Equally questionable was the fundamental equity of the policy. Instead of relying on private investors, the government could have developed the transportation network itself, covering the costs out of tax revenues. Such an ap¬ proach would not have gone unopposed: memories of Shays' Rebel¬ lion—when an overly heavy burden of taxation had very nearly toppled the social order—ran deep in Massachusetts. Still, in electing not to finance transportation improvements through the tax system, the state was making a choice which, as Morton Horwitz has pointed out, "had major consequences for the distribution of wealth and power in... society."[6] Presumably the commonwealth's goal was to facilitate economic development in the interests of all of its citizens, yet its manner of doing so stood to benefit some citizens more sub¬ stantially—and far more directly—than others.

Nevertheless in practice such issues often seemed secondary to the more tangible results of the state's policy. Thanks to scores of bridge, turnpike, and canal-building ventures, a growing portion of the pop¬ ulation was linked to the

expanding market economy. Though not all sections or regions benefited equally, most gained at least something. Nor did the investors whose capital financed the effort necessarily reap great rewards. Up to the beginning of the railroad era, profits were generally much lower than expected. Indeed from that stand¬ point the commonwealth—and beyond it the average citizen—appeared to fare rather well.

The first privately financed transportation facility incorporated by Massachusetts was a bridge spanning the Charles River between Boston and Charlestown. Granted in 1785, the charter went to a group of investors led by Thomas Russell, a wealthy Boston merchant. In the legislature Russell's group had won out against another, organized by the Cabots of Beverly, proposing a different route. Two years later the Cabot group was granted a charter to build the Essex Bridge across the Merrimack at Salem, and in the same year the legislature incorporated the Malden Bridge over the Mystic River. All three bridges lay in the path of major routes northward from Boston, and traffic was heavy from the beginning. As a result investors found themselves hand¬ somely rewarded, and several profited as well from the increased value of adjacent real estate holdings and the opportunity to sell con¬ struction materials to the companies in which they were stockholders.[8]

Author's Notes

5. Handlin and Handlin, Commonwealth, pp. 108-110 and 114-120.

6. Morton J. Horwitz, The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860 (Cambridge, Mass., 1981), p. xv. See also pp. 63-139. Among other things Horwitz takes issue with the Handlins—and other "consensus" historians who have done similar work—for failing to ask "in whose interest" the pattern of governmental action documented in their studies was forged. "To a surprisingly great extent, they treated all instances of state intervention as equally proving their point, as indeed such evidence would tend to do, given the qualitatively undifferentiated questions they tended to ask" (p. xiv).

8. Handlin and Handlin, Commonwealth, pp. 109-110 and 114-115; and Stanley J. Kutler, Privilege and Creative Destruction: The Charles River Bridge Case (New York, 1978), pp. 8-13.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dalzell, Robert F., Jr. *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Robert F. Dalzell Jr., *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made* (Harvard University Press, 1987), 82–83.

Shortened citation:

Dalzell, *Enterprising Elite*, 82–83.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.32

Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic

Thomas H. Cox

SELECTION	fine the play of economic energy."2
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 191–192 · Supplied edition: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

thus made the Supreme Court an "active agent in federal policy" that would, in the future, "set aside state legislation, which in its judgment might unduly confine the play of economic energy."2° In 1954, the U.S. Supreme Court under the leadership of Chief Justice Earl Warren used the concept of strict scrutiny suggested in footnote four of Carolene to strike down a school segregation law in the landmark case of Brown v. Board of Education of Topeka, Kansas. This decision gave momentum to the burgeoning civil rights movement but prompted southern political leaders to invoke state powers to protect public safety as a means of avoiding desegregation. Through passage of the Civil Rights Act of 1964 and Voting Rights Act of 1965, Congress insisted that the Bill of Rights in conjunction with the equal protection clause of the Fourteenth Amendment and other constitutional provisions, such as the commerce clause, trumped state police powers. Because these laws were based in part on the authority of the commerce clause, civil rights attorneys were quick to argue that Gibbons v.

Ogden provided a broad interpretation of federal commerce power which could and should be used to combat segregation.*? An early opportunity to test this theory came in Heart of Atlanta Motel, Inc., v. United States (1964), in which Justice Thomas Campbell Clark adopted a broad interpretation of Gibbons to strike down segregation laws in hotels that served interstate traffic. Clark ruled, "Although the principles which we apply today are those first formulated by Chief Justice Marshall in Gibbons v. Ogden, the conditions of transportation and commerce have changed dramatically, and we must apply those principles to the present state of commerce." Increases in interstate traffic, Clark found, made segregation laws an undue burden on interstate commerce. The same year, the Warren Court ruled in Katzenbach v. McClung that federal authorities could desegregate Ollie's Barbeque, a popular eatery in Birmingham, Alabama, which prepared and sold food that had been shipped across state lines.*° Ironically, while civil rights attorneys and federal judges were putting Gibbons v.

Ogden to work to promote social justice, historians proved more interested in the case's relationship to the emergence of a national market economy in the early nineteenth century. No less a figure than New Left historian William Appleman Williams, in his influential Contours of American History, described John Marshall as a "firm mercantilist" committed to an activist state whose Gibbons decision bore "a striking resemblance to the key struggles in England to open up the system created by mercantilism and yet at the same time prevent any one element from tory of American Law, published in 1973, similarly emphasized Gibbons's role in striking down state commerce powers to help create an integrated national market. With the rise of cultural history in the 1980s, historian G. Edward White depicted the steamboat monopoly case as a symbolic conflict pitting "economic privilege against free competition, the few against the many, the resistors against the defenders of progress." But he also concluded that Marshall's Gibbons decision was "highly inconclusive," which "For all the fanfare with which it was received, settled very little and that in an awkward fashion."*?

The legacy of Gibbons did not long remain solely an academic matter. Beginning in the r990s, the Rehnquist Court launched a substantive attempt to sharply limit congressional commerce authority. Observers dubbed this trend the "New Federalism." In United States v. Lopez (1995), the Supreme Court struck down a federal statute based on the notion that the possession of guns near public schools, if repeated throughout the nation, could have a negative impact on interstate tion of the Violence against Women Act that provided for federal civil suits for victims of gender-motivated violence, based on the contention that violence against women inhibited travel and commerce across state lines.** In both cases, the Rehnquist Court held that state laws already provided gun control and rape

prevention, making federal laws based on the commerce clause unnecessary. Yet even the New Federalism appeared to have limits, for in Gonzales v.
Raich (2005) the Court upheld a federal controlled substances act that made it illegal to transport marijuana, even for medical purposes, across state lines.*° By the dawn of the twenty-first century, jurists and academics were no closer to reaching a consensus on the meaning of Gibbons v. Ogden than they were in 1824. Yet this was a state of affairs that John Marshall presumably would have understood. For the early Republic was a time of paradoxes. Rising groups of inventors and businessmen sought alliances with an older generation of elites, and these same landowners called for the regulation of steam travel in order to preserve their traditional wealth and status. State and federal judges navigated treacherous waters when such issues came before their courts, and they were mindful of the public support they would require to legitimate their decisions. When viewed from this perspective, the language of commerce and nationalism that Marshall deployed in Gibbons v. Ogden makes sense. It was not a clever attempt to sidestep the thorny issue of interstate commerce. Rather, Marshall had

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cox, Thomas H. *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*. Athens: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Thomas H. Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic* (Ohio University Press, 2009), 191–192.

Shortened citation:

Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*, 191–192.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.33

A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America

Brian Balogh

SELECTION	"To Strengthen and Perpetuate that Union"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 137–138 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

argued, would propel the General Government directly into the lives of its citizens in ways that simply could not be ignored.** Appropriating Federal dollars to fund state-administered projects that achieved a national purpose was a different matter. Here, the federal presence was ameliorated through a branch of government that was closer to its citizens. Like Jefferson and Madison, Monroe initially interpreted the grant of power to Congress contained in Article I, Section 8 of the Constitution — "to pay the debts and provide for the common defense and general welfare of the United States," as a limited right. It meant that Congress could do little more than appropriate: it could not construct, maintain, or regulate. But in his veto message, Monroe acknowledged that "my mind has undergone a change." Sounding like Hamilton in the Report on Manufactures, Monroe argued that, "More comprehensive terms than to 'pay the debts and provide for the common defense and general welfare' could not have been used." s? Monroe concluded from this construction that the founders had intended these powers to be general and unqualified. "Had it been intended that Congress should be restricted in the appropriation of the public money to such expenditures as were authorized by a rigid construction of the other specific grants," Monroe conjured, "how easy it would have been to have provided for it, by a declaration to that effect." This interpretation went well beyond Jefferson's and Madison's insistence that federal dollars be spent only on projects explicitly enumerated by the constitution. The critical threshold for Monroe was that the projects be national in scope, not that they be explicitly enumerated in the Constitution. If they met that test, and if the General Government's role was simply fiscal, they were constitutional. To prove his case, Monroe cited a long list of appropriations approved during the Jefferson and Madison administrations. "My idea is," Monroe concluded, "that Congress have an unlimited power to raise money, and that, in its appropriation, they have a discretionary power, restricted only by the duty to appropriate it to purposes of common defense, and of general, not local, national, not State, benefit."

Monroe distinguished between Congressional power to construct roads and canals — which he opposed — and the obligation to finance projects that were national in scope but carried out by the states. Financing, rather than planning or administering, was the key to solving this enigma.' Monroe deployed this more capacious interpretation of the "general welfare" clause to endorse Congressional authorization of Army Corps of Engineers surveys for national projects. The General Survey Bill, introduced in 1824, provided funding to conduct surveys and studies of national transportation routes. The Board of Engineers for Internal Improvements, formed by the Army Corps of Engineers, planned ambitiously, at the outset. But this nationwide planning soon deteriorated into a piecemeal approach — one that was far more conducive to Congressional appropriations. As the Institute for Government Research concluded in 1923, "This was the only attempt ever made by the Corps of Engineers to view the country as a whole." On his last day in office, Monroe signed legislation that extended the Cumberland Road from Wheeling, in western Virginia, to Zanesville, Ohio. The debate over internal improvement legislation rehearsed familiar arguments on both sides.

Improvers cited national defense, better postal service and, most of all, commercial benefits. They cited the "general welfare" and "necessary and proper" clauses in the Constitution. Opponents questioned whether any of the contemplated projects were really national in scope, whether they would not be better executed by the states, and whether federal largesse would be distributed equitably. They raised questions of corruption and pointed to the

growing sectional divide over federal powers that might one day threaten slavery. The legislation passed both houses with solid majorities. Regardless of who won the specific battles, the number of precedents continued to grow, bolstering Monroe's interpretation of the general welfare clause. Favoring an active national

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Balogh, Brian. *A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Brian Balogh, *A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America* (Cambridge University Press, 2009), 137–138.

Shortened citation:

Balogh, *A Government Out of Sight*, 137–138.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.34

Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890

Carter Goodrich

SELECTION	PUBLIC PROMOTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 268–269 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1960.

Excerpt

ings and on whether or not it was required, as in the case of the federal land grants, to render special services to the government. Yet there is one point of view from which these differences may be regarded as largely irrelevant. In the field of transportation, American governments almost never contributed to the resources of enterprises which were not thought of as "needing" their support. All these diverse items of governmental commitment, therefore, contributed to the amassing of capital at the time when it was needed for construction, and they may be taken together for the purpose of assessing the amount of public aid to transportation development. In the period before the Civil War, the state governments committed some $300,000,000 in cash or credit to internal improvements, and local governments more than $125,000,000. Well over half of this amount was spent, as Chapter I I has shown, in the seven states directly confronting the Appalachian Barrier. By contrast, the federal government spent on internal improvements a sum less than one percent of this total during the Era of National Projects which ended with the Maysville Road veto.

Even adding the costs of completing the National Road after 1830, the direct financial expenditure of the central government on early internal improvements was only about $7,000,000, though account should also be taken of its contributions to the development of transportation through the technical assistance rendered by the Army Engineers and through improvements not intended to produce revenue, such as military roads and river and harbor improvements. On the other hand, the federal government made much larger sums available to the states for their own internal improvements programs, by payments of a part of the proceeds of public land sold within their borders and through distribution of the federal surplus revenue, which a number of states applied to improvement purposes. There were also substantial gifts of land to the states to be used at their discretion for the same purpose. The practice of giving federal land to the states for the construction of specific improvements, which began with early grants for turnpikes and the Illinois and Michigan and the Wabash canals, was revived on a larger scale in 1850; approximately 22,500,000 acres were distributed under the legislation of this decade.

In the period after 1860, there is a marked change in the relative contributions of the different levels of government. The Era of National Subsidy, which was initiated with the Illinois Central act of 1850, reached its peak in the few years following the end of the Civil War. The companies that constructed the first transcontinental railroad received loans of nearly $65,000,000—the one major case of direct financial aid from the federal government. In addition, land grants were authorized during the years 1861— 72 to a number of railroad companies, from which they ultimately obtained well over 100,000,000 acres. On the other hand, state governments, many of which were now bound by constitutional restrictions against aid to internal improvements, did much less than before; their total contribution in this period was less than that of the national government. Texas matched apart of the federal land grants by adding some 27,000,000 acres to the more than 5,000,000 it had granted before the war.

Financial aid by the state governments, which was for the most part confined to Massachusetts and to nine states of the Reconstruction South, appears to have approached a nominal total of $95,000,000; a substantial deduction, however, should be made for discounts on the sale of state securities and for adjustments which substituted smaller amounts of state bonds for guarantees of company obligations. By contrast local government aid during this period attained very large proportions, though the available figures are far from complete and are subject to deductions for discounts on the sale of municipal and county bonds. In the three states of New York, Illinois, and Missouri, commitments for local aid reached a total of almost $70,000,000 before their programs, like those of many other

states and that of the federal government, ended in the early eighteen-seventies. Somewhat later, Cincinnati

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Goodrich, Carter. *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1960.

Footnote citation:

Carter Goodrich, *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890* (Columbia University Press, 1960), 268–269.

Shortened citation:

Goodrich, *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890*, 268–269.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.35

The Tariff History of the United States

F. W. Taussig

SELECTION	How Duties were Raised above
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 198–199 · Supplied edition: 6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910.

Excerpt

The wool chiefly imported and chiefly used by our manufacturers was that of the second class, costing between twelve and twenty-four cents per pound, and paying a duty of six cents. The compensating duty on woollens was therefore raised in 1864 to twenty-four cents per pound of cloth. The ad-valorem (protective) duty on woollens had been raised to forty per cent.

During the war the production of wool and woollens had been greatly increased. The check to the manufacture of cotton goods, which resulted from the stoppage of the great source of supply of raw cotton, caused some increase in the demand for woollens. The government's need of large quantities of cloth for army use was also an important cause. After the war, a revolution was threatened. Cotton bade fair to take its former place among textile goods; the government no longer needed its woollens, and threw on the market the large stocks of army clothing which it had on hand. In the hope of warding off the imminent depression of their trade, the wool growers and manufacturers made an effort to obtain still further assistance from the government. A convention of wool growers and manufacturers was held in Syracuse, N. Y., in December, 1865. That both these classes of producers, as a body, understood and supported the views of this meeting, is not at all certain. The mass of wool growers undoubtedly knew to the specific duty, came to be imposed, the writer has never seen satisfactorily explained.
It probably came into the tariff in connection with the discriminating duty of ten per cent. which was imposed on goods imported in the vessels of nations that had no treaty of commerce with us. nothing of it; they were represented chiefly by a few breeders of sheep. Among the manufacturers, many held aloof from it when its character became somewhat more plain. There is good evidence to show that the whole movement was the work of a few energetic manufacturers of New England, engaged chiefly in producing carpets and worsted goods, and of some prominent breeders of sheep.' The fact that the rates of duty, as arranged by the Syracuse convention, were especially advantageous to certain manufacturers—namely, those who made carpets, worsted goods, and blankets,—tends to support this view. On the surface, however, the movement appeared to be that of the growers and manufacturers united.
The latter agreed to let the wool producers advance the duty on the raw material to any point they wished; they under- 1" This tariff (of 1867) was devised by carpet and blanket makers, who pretended to be 'The National Woollen Manufacturers' Association,' in combination with certain persons who raised fine bucks and wished to sell them at high prices, and who acted in the name of ' The National Wool- Growers' Association." * * * A greater farce was never witnessed *.* = * Many who took part in the proceedings of 1866, finding that the Association [of Wool Manufacturers] was used for the convenience of special interests, have since withdrawn."—Harris, " Memorial," pp. 22, 23.

Mr. Harris says elsewhere; " The carpet interest was predominant [in the Wool Manufacturers' Association]. * * * The President was, and is now (1871), a large carpet manufacturer; and the Secretary was a very talented and astute politician, from Washington, chosen by the influence of the President." And again: "The Association having spent considerable sums in various ways peculiar to Washington (the italics are Mr. Harris's) increased the annual tax on its members very largely; and at the present time (1871) it is hopelessly in debt to its President."—"Protective Duties," pp. 9, 10; " The Tariff," p. 17. See also " Argument on Foreign Wool Tariff before Finance Committee of Senate," New York, 1871.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taussig, F. W. *The Tariff History of the United States*. 6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910.

Footnote citation:

F. W. Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States* (6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910), 198–199.

Shortened citation:

Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States*, 198–199.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.36

Roads, Rails & Waterways: The Army Engineers and Early Transportation

Forest G. Hill

SELECTION	ROADS, RAILS, AND WATERWAYS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 222–223 · Supplied edition: University of Oklahoma Press, 1957.

Excerpt

After 1852 the two engineer corps shared this work and also repaired the White House and constructed other government buildings. For a few years river and harbor improvements were again important, but the most notable increase was road building in the West. From 1849 onward the number of military and territorial road projects grew rapidly, so that by 1859 the Topographical Bureau directed road construction in Minnesota, California, and the territories of Nebraska, Kansas, New Mexico, Utah, Oregon, and Washington. The work of topographical engineers as western road-builders grew with surprising speed until the Civil War intervened.*°

Although the army engineers had been brought into existence to build coastal defenses, their later construction activity lay primarily in the field of civil works. Their civil construction was extensive during the time of the General Survey Act but was greatest just before the Civil War.

The significant role which the army engineers achieved in the movement for internal improvements before the Civil War was indicative of the responsibility which the federal government took in this field. By the time of the War of 1812, it was widely agreed that the government would have to guide and assist public improvement, and the most effective instrumentality at its command was its skilled army engineers. A comprehensive system of planning and encouragement was thought to be necessary, and each President asked for a federal system of roads and canals and for increased support of the engineering branches of the War Department.

This assumption of governmental responsibility for the progress of transportation eventuated in passage of the General Survey Act of 1824. The Board of Engineers for Internal Improvements was instituted as the technical planning agency to execute this act. The board completed surveys and plans for many important projects, studying the military, commercial, and political benefits of each proposed improvement, but no federal program was adopted for securing their systematic completion. As it became evident that plans would not be fulfilled, generalized planning became pointless. After a few years, therefore, the planning function of the army engineers declined and atrophied. There was a slow change in emphasis from surveying for internal improvements to exploring the West and executing public works necessary for national expansion.

This instance of abortive planning is noteworthy. For two or three decades the planning of internal improvements was extensively advocated and debated. It is significant that this attempted planning was often felt to be essential, that it took place primarily on the engineering level, that it was designed to promote private enterprise and economic development, and that its abandonment was due more to political factors than to the opposition of private business.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hill, Forest G. *Roads, Rails & Waterways: The Army Engineers and Early Transportation*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1957.

Footnote citation:

Forest G. Hill, *Roads, Rails & Waterways: The Army Engineers and Early Transportation* (University of Oklahoma Press, 1957), 222–223.

Shortened citation:

Hill, *Roads, Rails & Waterways*, 222–223.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.37

The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860

George Rogers Taylor

SELECTION	ROADS AND BRIDGES
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 19–20 · Supplied edition: Rinehart, 1951.

Excerpt

It also should be noted that when Ohio was made a state in 1803, Congress provided that 5 per cent of the net proceeds from the sale of public lands within the state should be set aside for the con¬ struction of roads. Of this amount two fifths were to be spent by Congress in building roads to and through the state and three fifths were to be disbursed by the Ohio legislature for laying out and con¬ structing state roads. Down to 1830 considerable sums for the build¬ ing of roads in Ohio were available from this source, but unfortunately a substantial part of these funds appears to have been diverted for political purposes.

In his annual message to Congress in December, 1815, President James Madison urged "the great importance of establishing through¬ out our country the roads and canals which can best be executed under national authority." John C. Calhoun sponsored and Henry Clay supported a bill in the House of Representatives providing for a national system of internal improvements on a scale similar to that proposed by Gallatin in 1808. As finally passed by Congress on March

1, 1817, this measure, known as the Bonus Bill, provided that funds arising from the chartering of the second Bank of the United States should be earmarked for this purpose. Madison vetoed the bill on constitutional grounds. Two other presidential vetoes punctuated the long struggle. In 1822 elaborate plans were drawn up for a na¬ tional system of internal improvements following the main lines of an elaborate scheme worked out by Calhoun in 1819. But again the proposal had to be dropped, for on May 4, 1822, President James Monroe vetoed a bill providing for the erection of toll gates and the collection of tolls on the Cumberland, or National Road, stating at great length his belief that federally sponsored internal improvements were and always had been unconstitutional.

Finally, President Andrew Jackson, in his veto of the use of fed¬ eral funds to help finance the Maysville Road (1830) and also in his annual message of December 6, 1830, opposed federal grants for internal improvements at that time. It must be emphasized, however, that Jackson took no arbitrary stand on the constitutionality of fed¬ eral projects for building roads or canals but pointed out that the Maysville Road lay within a single state and was not a part of a great national system for which constitutional justification for federal aid might reasonably be argued. Actually, he went beyond constitutional questions, condemning grants for local improvements because of the serious abuses that might be expected from them and opposing large national projects because he believed it more important at that time to retire the national debt than to appropriate money for national roads and bridges, desirable though they might be. In part, also, Jackson's opposition to the Maysville project may have stemmed from the fact that it involved federal aid to a private corporation. At other times Jackson gave his approval to substantial appropriations of federal funds for building roads and canals.2 His Maysville Road veto, therefore, hardly warrants the strict constructionist emphasis so commonly given it.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taylor, George Rogers. *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*. Economic History of the United States 4. New York: Rinehart, 1951.

Footnote citation:

George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (Rinehart, 1951), 19–20.

Shortened citation:

Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*, 19–20.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.38

Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 76–77 · Supplied edition: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Excerpt

In actuality, Jackson's policy of "rotation in office" led to relatively few dismissals. In the fall of 1830, the Washington Globe reported that 919 federal officers out of 10,093, or 9. percent, had lost their jobs since the administration took office. A recent study of the Post Office is much more critical of Jackson's dismissal policy but concludes that the administration discharged about 973 postmasters, or 13 percent of the total number, during its eight years in office. The worst aspect of Jackson's policy of rotation in office was not its immediate effect on government administration but in the opening it created for a "spoils system." Before the institution of a merit system in the federal civil service in the late nineteenth century, even the humblest government positions were regularly filled by the campaign workers for the party in power, and incumbent bureaucrats were routinely fired to make room for new political appointees whenever the government changed hands. Jackson did not create this system, but his successors did by building on the precedents he established.

Spotting a political opportunity, Henry Clay was quick to denounce Jackson's removal policy, ignoring the widespread belief that his own appointment as secretary of state had also come about as a political payoff. Describing the removals as a policy of punishing elderly public servants for their sincere political convictions, Clay called the practice an "intolerable oppression" of individuals that could also undermine free government." His efforts were unavailing. State governments had already used the spoils system, and Jackson's egalitarian defense of rotation in office had irresistible appeal. When Clay's party finally replaced the Jacksonians, they protected and rewarded themselves with the same system they had previously denounced. Jackson's initial policy on internal improvements bore a close resemblance to his ideas about tariffs. While he was a member of the Senate and a candidate for president in 1824, he voted for protective tariffs and internal improvement bills, explaining to a correspondent "as regards internal improvements, Congress can constitutionally apply their funds to such objects as may be deemed National."® The line between national and purely local improvements was fuzzy, of course, and over the course of his presidency, Jackson became convinced that the internal improvement policies favored by his enemies were a species of corruption and an outrageous drain on the treasury. Invariably claiming national economic benefits for purely local schemes, log-rolling politicians would get subsidies for their pet projects by trading votes with fellow legislators to gain majority support for a hodgepodge of measures that could never win approval individually. Not coincidentally, the resulting high level of federal expenditures would provide an excuse for keeping the tariff high in order to pay for them. Beneficial in intent, indiscriminate federal aid to internal improvements seemed to lead ineluctably to corruption, and Jackson decided to oppose it.

The occasion arose when Congress agreed to purchase stock in the Maysville, Washington, Paris, and Lexington Turnpike Company, a private corporation that intended to build a highway across Kentucky to the western terminus of the National Road, on the banks of the Ohio River. The new turnpike would lie wholly inside a single state, but proponents called it a national measure because it would extend the reach of the National Road, linking the Midwest to the Chesapeake basin. Jackson had been looking for a way to reassure southerners of his support for strict construction, however, and he had no desire to deliver federal favors into Henry Clay's backyard. When the bill reached his desk, he had already decided to veto it.

Jackson's Maysville Road veto began with support for the goals of internal improvement but shifted immediately to constitutional objections.

(See Document 14.) Like his contemporaries, Jackson envisioned two ways in which the federal government might undertake such measures.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America*. Boston: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America* (Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998), 76–77.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay*, 76–77.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.39

Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	SPOILING INTERNAL IMPROVEMENTS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 171–172 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Excerpt

works; still, the party card had been played, and presidential aspirations increasingly would color debates on internal improvement until the 1828 election was decided.*!

The effect of Rives's resolution was to show friends of Andrew Jackson how they could oppose the Adams administration on internal improvement without embracing the cause of old radicals such as Macon and Randolph. Voters in the West naturally were drawn by sentiment to Jackson—his violence, heroism, character, primitive rhetoric, and humble origins; but westerners equally were drawn by interest to internal improvements, and they would not join a party built on states' rights and hostility to federal developmental programs. Taking their cues from Rives, members of the Twentieth Congress began presenting themselves as friends of a "system" of improvement yet enemies of executive influence, patronage, corruption, and the rise of a monied "Aristocracy." John Eaton (of all people)—author of The Letters of Wyoming and a recognized voice of the Jackson camp—gave a speech worthy of the early Calhoun, praising the "stronger bond of Union" that resulted from improvements and urging the adoption of "such measures" as would "make the citizens of this extended continent one People." At the same time friends and enemies of internal improvement rushed to document ' their opposition to this administration's alleged excesses. "No great system... had been reported to Congress," complained Louis McLane: "The Secretary of War had departed entirely from the object of the law of '24." By now sixty-nine separate surveys had been commenced and over thirty more were pending. Robert Y. Hayne, who had once asked Calhoun why the Charleston harbor found no place in his national system, now said that he had learned a great lesson from supporting the General Survey Act: "the most important question, in passing a Jaw, was not 'what' its benefit would be, but to what extent its provisions might be abused."4?

South Carolinians in both houses led such effective new attacks on the annual appropriation for the Board of Engineers that both the wisdom and constitutionality of the present system began to slip from view. The proliferation of petitions for aid, and the reluctance of anyone to find his own project too local to deserve assistance, left the cause of national improvements wide open to attack. Congressman William Dickinson Martin moved to strike out the whole appropriation, disavowing any sectional feeling yet noticing that no federal engineers had been to South Carolina. Philip Barbour worried that the day was coming when the $10 million now annually servicing debt would be freed up for internal improvement: such a boon would "destroy" the "equilibrium between the General and State Governments." Afraid that work enough had been identified to last fifty or a hundred years, Charles Wickliffe of Kentucky called for a "bird's eye view of the probable expense of those already surveyed." South Carolina a MAU. Coc tak Does] on heen pewweh tenting Adame fae favaring every local petition with a visit from the engineers. (What might they have said if he had not?) The wisdom of the framers in depriving Congress of the right to make roads and canals now stood verified in Smith's mind: tens of millions of dollars were about to be spent, scattering unequal benefits across the states—too much going to the West and little coming to the cotton South, which generated most of the country's export wealth. How could even "national" projects be constitutional? The word "national" was "unknown to the origin and theory of our Government." At Philadelphia the framers themselves had bothered to "expunge" it from the draft of the Constitution by "unanimous vote." Who "pushed this doctrine"

transforming a republic into a nation?
“Those who were looking to empire”: Sir, the tariff of 1816, for a system of protecting duties to manufactures; the bonus bill of 1817, for a system of Internal Improvements; the report of the Secretary of War of 1819, recommending an extensive system of military road [sic] and canals; and the law of 1824, for procuring plans, estimates, and surveys for national roads and canals, were the priests that bound your Constitution fast in cords, and laid it at the foot of the alter of caprice, avarice, interest, and ambition, and we, their surrogates, are about to immolate the victim.* Vice President John C. Calhoun—onetime sponsor with Henry Clay of the Bonus Bill and author of that 1819 War Department blueprint for an “extensive system”’—now slipped out of the priestly vestments Smith had given him, casting a tie-breaking vote in the Senate, to restrict appropriations for the Board of Engineers. This was the second such move (he had two years before killed an Illinois canal), yet he angrily denied that he espoused any new opinions. With critics murmuring in their seats, Calhoun explained from the chair that he always had feared that congressional authority would be “diverted from national objects or made subservient to political combinations.” James Noble accused him of treachery and speaking out of order but was gaveled down himself in a heated exchange. Tempers flared in the House as well during the frantic closing days ofa very long session, as members washed their hands of particular surveys they once had demanded. Feuding Ohioans tried to pass a land grant for the Miami canal while scuttling a second through Cleveland. And in Kentucky, local Jacksonians turned against a turnpike through Maysville that would become the tree on which to hoist Henry Clay. Charles Wickliffe hoped that by restricting the system to “national” projects selected only by Congress they could rescue internal improvements from the “little army of civil agents, blood-suckers, hangers-on, and dependents” who fed “from the public crib” and together with the officer corps made up a “formidable phalanx in the field” of men beholden to executive nearer Tt hailed dnum nc aleraue cantd Manners (Ulmoce elLManentn 42.%elL. p02.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States* (University of North Carolina Press, 2001), 171–172.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *Internal Improvement*, 171–172.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.40

Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse

Richard R. John

SELECTION	The Postal System as an Agent of Change
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

The Postal System as an Agent ofChange

TOCQUEVILLE'S observations highlight a feature of American public life in the early republic that is too often overlooked. By 1831, two decades before the completion of the first major east-west railroad and thirteen years before the establishment of the first successful electric telegraph, the United States had already been transformed by a communications revolution whose implications had yet to be felt in France.

This communications revolution was a highly complicated event. Like so many of the epochal transformations that have shaped the pattern ofeveryday life, it was a long revolution: it occurred in an extended territory over an extended period of time. And, like so many of the large-scale processes that have figured conspicuously in the making of the modern world, it was a latent revolution: its full implications went all but unnoticed to the vast majority of the millions of people whose lives it shaped. Still, certain of its features can be described with a fair degree of precision. Most obviously, it involved the transmission of an unprecedented volume of newspapers, letters, and other kinds of information through time and over space. In addition, it was dependent upon the stagecoach, as well as various other horsepowered means of conveyance, to transmit this information. And last but not least, it was set in motion by the postal system, that "great link between minds," as Tocqueville described it, that "penetrates" into the "heart of the wilderness," bringing enlightenment to palace and hovel alike.

The importance ofthe postal system in Tocqueville's America can be measured in a variety of ways. Consider its size. In 1831, the postal system, with more than 8,700 postmasters, employed just over threequarters of the entire federal civilian work force, mostly as part-time postmasters in villages and towns scattered throughout the countryside (see Table 1.1). The federal army, in contrast, consisted ofa mere 6,332 men, most ofwhom were located at isolated army posts in the transap- The Postal System as an Agent ofChange palachian West. In addition, the postal system transmitted 13. million letters and million newspapers at a cost of $1. million through a network that extended over 116,000 square miles (see Table 1.2). No other branch of the central government penetrated so deeply into the hinterland or played such a conspicuous role in shaping the pattern of everyday life. Indeed, it would hardly be an exaggeration to suggest that for the vast majority ofAmericans the postal system was the central government. Many contemporaries agreed. The enterprise, declared postal authority and onetime postal clerk Pliny Miles, was of more importance to the people, while its daily operations were felt to a "wider extent" and affected a "larger share" ofthe public at large than the other departments of the central government "all put together."12

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

John, Richard R. *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Richard R. John, *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse* (Harvard University Press, 1995), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

John, *Spreading the News*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.41

Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850

David A. Zonderman

SELECTION	Aspirations and Anxieties
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 270–271 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

In reality, many workers in Lowell and other industrial communities were not toiling away for the lofty goals Farley and Robinson enumerated. Many young women worked in factories for the opportunity to earn and spend their own money, free from any other obligations. These operatives came from families of modest means who were glad to see their children earn their own keep, but not in desperate need for them to send home all their earnings. Some workers, such as Martha Russell, sent small amounts now and then, more as gifts than as regular payments. Russell wrote to her parents: "I here inclose three dollars for you to by any little necessities you need most." She added, in a magnanimous gesture, "write if there is any thing that I can help you to I shall do it with pleasure while I have my health...." Russell was certainly more than willing to send some of her wages home to aid her family, but there was no desperate necessity for her to scrimp every available penny to rescue the homestead. Russell probably earned personal satisfaction and social approval from sharing a modest portion of her savings with her family.[21]

Some operatives did admit that the public image of the completely unselfish laborer was not an entirely accurate picture. Workers did have personal reasons for working in factories, but they were often phrased in very modest terms. An operative from Waltham, Massachusetts, explained that many mill girls came from all over New England to earn money for something more than the bare essentials, not to rescue their families from destitution. "There may be several daughters in one family, and each is desirous of promoting the general welfare; and, though they may have all the necessities of life, yet they desire more of its comforts and conveniences than they have the means of procuring at home."[22]

Many women clung tightly to their factory jobs, not because they had to support their families: quite to the contrary, because they saw their work as the foundation of their personal freedom. Beneath their proclamations of sacrifice and the ethic of hard work, they believed that industrial labor afforded them an independent living. "Song of the Spinners" reassured workers: "Despite of toil we all agree, / Or out of the mills, or in, / Dependent on others we ne'er will be, / So long as we're able to spin." Elizabeth Turner, even as she was praising the generosity of those who worked to help others, also recognized that many operatives felt "a spirit of honest independence, as they... realize that they can support themselves by their own efforts." Factory work was liberating women from the myths of female inferiority and dependence; female operatives were fulfilling their needs and rights to women's independence. When these women argued that their work and their wages were the foundation of their independence, they were not saying that they necessarily had to labor for their very survival; but neither were they dismissing their own efforts as mere diversion for pin money.[23]

Lucy Larcom saw how the spirit of independence in female factory workers gave them a sense of their own potential they had never known before. "It was like a young man's pleasure in entering upon business for himself. Girls had never tried that experiment before and they liked it. It brought out in them a dominant strength of character which the world did not previously see, but now fully acknowledges. Of course they had a right to continue at that freer kind of work as long as they chose...." The editors of the Operatives'Magazine, veterans of the Lowell mills, saw factory workers as the epitome of the honorable producer who made all of America independent. They wrote: "we have not with some, been accustomed to look upon the Operatives of our country as a low degraded class; but as those who, by

their industry, energy, and enterprizes, are the producers of all that is around, which render us more independent and happier, than the other nations of the earth; and, hence, the most honorable class, and those of us who are of the greatest benefit to the world." Working women were encouraged to have pride in their being independent workers and respectable women.[24]

Many women workers believed in their independence because they earned their own cash wages and managed their own finances. They were still subject to the authority of their male managers, but they were not living in the family household, where their work was likely to be owned, in a sense, by their fathers or husbands. They were responsible for their own standard of living much more than they were contributing to their family's daily welfare.

These women did not seem to recognize that their two models—the selfless female worker and the independent female worker, each eagerly embracing factory labor—might come into conflict with each other. After all, if women were laboring for others, how could they say that their work was a crucial step toward their independence? Or if women wanted to live and work for themselves, how long would they remain a key component of the family economy? Tensions arose when women tried to retain genteel notions of femininity, propriety, sacrifice, and refinement, while also defining new realms of women's self-reliance, respect, intelligence, and dignity in the workplace.

Yet, many operatives argued that the more women worked in the factories, the more successful they were in uniting their high moral standards with their newfound autonomy. Nearly every worker agreed that they started out from their country homes with strong ethical constitutions—but the question remained as to whether the factory system complemented or compromised those moral principles. Lucy Larcom saw the mill girls rising above any possible detrimental effects of factory labor and preserving their rural inheritance of honesty and hard work. "Their vigor of character was a natural development. The New Hampshire girls who came to Lowell were descendents of the sturdy backwoodsmen who settled that State.... They were earnest and capable; ready to undertake anything that was worth doing. My dreamy, indolent nature was shamed into activity among them." Larcom knew that industrial labor was not always inspiring; it could sometimes be quite confining, but it did not necessarily jeopardize the high standards bred into most operatives. She concluded that "the girls who toiled together at Lowell... practically said, by numbering themselves among factory girls, that in our country no real odium can be attached to any honest toil that any self-respecting woman might undertake."[25]

Author's Notes

21. Letter of Martha Russell, Andover, [Mass.], to her father, Benjamin Russell, Newry, Maine, January 19, 1839, Mehitable Abbott Russell Papers, Andover Historical Society, Andover, Massachusetts; Thomas Dublin, Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826-1860 (New York: Columbia University Press, 1979), p. 39.

22. Letter of a Waltham, [Mass.], operative, in Farley, Operatives'Reply, pp. 11-13.

23. Lowell Offering, v. 1, April 1841, p. 32; Lowell Offering, v. 1, May 1841, p. 50.

24. Larcom, Girlhood, pp. 199-200; Operatives'Magazine, July 1841, p. 64.

25. Larcom, Girlhood, p. 196.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Zonderman, David A. *Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

David A. Zonderman, *Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850* (Oxford University Press, 1992), 270–271.

Shortened citation:

Zonderman, *Aspirations and Anxieties*, 270–271.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.42

Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860

Thomas Dublin

SELECTION	hapter Five. The Boardinghouse
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 95–96 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

While the women's traditional conception of themselves as independent daughters of freemen played a crucial role in the turn-out, this factor alone would not necessarily have triggered a protest; alone it would have led women as individuals to quit work and return to their rural homes. But the turn-out was a collective action, indicating at once both the strength of women's economic motives and the importance of their sense of shared identity and purpose. They turned out in order to maintain existing wage rates and to hold onto their jobs and the economic independence they enjoyed.

The evidence of the planned, collective nature of the protest is clear. The Suffolk weavers' petition described earlier indicates that women workers initially planned to quit work en masse the day the wage cuts were to take effect. To make their pledge stick, women agreed to forfeit 5 dollars if they failed to abide by its terms. In order to secure additional support for their action, Suffolk weavers sent the petition to their counterparts at the Appleton Company and urged them to join the action.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dublin, Thomas. *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860.* New York: Columbia University Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

Thomas Dublin, *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860* (Columbia University Press, 1979), 95–96.

Shortened citation:

Dublin, *Women at Work*, 95–96.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.43

Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850

David A. Zonderman

SELECTION	Aspirations and Anxieties
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 206–207 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

1830s: "We are not slaves!—We scorn the name! / We ask nor friends or foeman's favor; / We're freemen's daughters—and we claim / The Rights that woman's father gave her."

The regulations affected all the employees, but it was the women who publicly denounced them. Some said it was particularly the employees raised in the contentious atmosphere of Dover who led this strike. Others claimed that it was the older workers—better paid, more experienced, with influence over the new arrivals— who resented being pushed back into the restrictive atmosphere of the boardinghouses and organized the protest. A committee of townspeople investigated the workers' grievances (an unusual gesture of community interest), but found only minor points in need of rectification. The strike was over quickly, with most workers returning to the jobs under their new regulations, or looking for new positions elsewhere.

The women who turned out in Chicopee during the closing days of April 1843, were able to organize yet another procession in support of their cause. They marched through the streets to the music of fife and drum, dressed in their best clothes, and waved their handkerchiefs to women in other mills as a signal to join the parade against wage cuts and speedups. In this case, however, workers in other factories were slow to join the strike, so the women returned to their jobs and were, apparently, permitted back in to work. They took to the streets again a few days later, but still met with little success. To add to their problems, when they tried to go back to work for a second time, their managers dismissed them. The Chicopee mill owners were apparently lenient enough to let their workers blow off some steam once, but two strike processions were one too many.

Two years later, some spinners at the Dwight Corporation in Chicopee refused to tend their machines when they were started one Monday morning, because of a reported wage reduction. They remained off the job until Tuesday afternoon, when management persuaded them to return for a fifty-cent per week raise. This walkout was very limited in scope, without any accompanying public displays. But these women maintained their ranks, and the managers quickly realized that even a small turn-out could adversely affect their company, so they settled the matter. Why this modest turn-out succeeded where larger protests failed is not certain. Perhaps the Dwight Corporation was caught at a vulnerable moment in its production schedule and needed those spinners at work no matter what the cost.

Most of the strikes in the mechanized factories of antebellum New England, from the early 1820s to the mid-1840s, confirmed the patterns set by the first walkout at Waltham. Most strikes took place at large textile mills; they were often led by women (frequently weavers); and they usually revolved around a dispute over wages. There are many possible explanations for this basic pattern of protest. First, the predominance of strikes in textile mills may be a historical artifact. Protests at large mills usually involved a substantial number of workers, and women often spoke out publicly for the first time at these turn-outs. These strikes were therefore bound to attract attention because of their unusual character. It is possible that other protests occurred at smaller, more isolated factories, but no one bothered to record these walkouts for posterity.

Rural factory villages may also have been particularly unconducive to organizing labor protests because there were fewer workers to draw on, fewer public meeting places to congregate at, and more power concentrated in the hands

of the owners. The large textile mills, on the other hand, brought together unprecedented numbers of workers in a single factory complex. Many of these operatives, especially the women, were living and working away from home for the first time. As a community of female operatives formed, with its own moral standards and its own forms of peer pressure, that emerging network could have been a powerful source of protest and resistance. The workers who participated in strikes were reappropriating the sense of discipline and interdependence they learned in the mills and using those principles to organize themselves in united protest. Weavers were often particularly known for their willingness to assist each other on the job, and perhaps on strike as well. Weavers also had more skill and earned higher wages than many other operatives—hence, they had higher working status and more economic resources. These weavers may have thought, therefore, that they had more to fight for, and more to fight with, than their co-workers.

In some mills, women ran the entire strike when their male co-workers failed to offer much assistance. Male operatives, often paid on a daily basis, were usually less affected by the wage cuts, which were based on piece rate reductions. Managers may have deliberately aimed at women's piece rates because such cuts produced the most savings and seemed to divide the work force along gender lines. But manufacturers who assumed that women would accept these cuts more readily than men were often gravely mistaken. Female operatives showed clearly that, in many cases, they were ready and willing to organize in defense of their rights. They were saying that if men would not ally with them—whether out of fear of economic competition or social stereotypes about the supposedly weaker sex—then the women would help themselves.

The close connection between strikes and wage reductions is also an intriguing phenomenon. Workers would occasionally walk off their jobs in protest against long working hours, factory and boardinghouse regulations, stretch-outs and speedups. But the main bone of contention was usually a cut in piece rates leading to a reduction in earnings. Why did so many strikes focus on the restoration of wages? It is possible that wage cuts actually became a lightning rod for workers' discontent with other aspects of the mechanized factory system. Operatives may have had long-standing grievances with their work and their employers, and wage reductions were the last straw. Wages were, after all, the result workers saw after all their labor—they had very little contact with any finished products. If their bottom line was cut, or their livelihood tampered with, then immediate action was called for to rectify this problem, which would show up in their next pay envelope.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Zonderman, David A. *Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

David A. Zonderman, *Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850* (Oxford University Press, 1992), 206–207.

Shortened citation:

Zonderman, *Aspirations and Anxieties*, 206–207.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.44

The Factory Girls: A Collection of Writings on Life and Struggles in the New England Factories of the 1840's

Philip S. Foner, ed.

SELECTION	The Factory Girls
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Illinois Press, 1977.

Excerpt

the conditions in the mills.\But many of the level-headed Yankee girls quickly saw that the corporations were capitalizing on the favorable image of the factory girl created by the operatives' own efforts. It did not take long for them to realize that a favorable image was no compensation for exploitation. The genteel operatives continued to center their social life in the churches, learning foreign languages, writing verse or fiction, learning how to play the piano, or taking instruction in the fine arts. But they also began to seethe with revolt and react with "independent and solid character' to the existing working conditions.| They were tired of endless labor, of tending as many as three looms, of long hours of daily indoor work, broken only for two hastily gulped meals, with only Sundays and four holidays off during a year: Fast Day, the Fourth of July, Thanksgiving, and Christmas. Even Saturday evenings were denied them—the boardinghouses would not allow lamps to be lighted so the girls would retire early in preparation for church on Sunday.

Ironically, as Hannah Josephson notes in The Golden Threads: New England's Mill Girls and Magnates (published in 1949 and still the best general study of the female factory operatives), by 1845 the oft-maligned English system had four to six fewer hours in the working week and two more holidays per year, and most British operatives were required to tend but two looms. In 1847, the tenhour day became law in England; it was not until 1874 that the same applied for women and children in Massachusetts.?° Increasingly, as stockholders multiplied and greater profits were demanded, the wages of the Lowell operatives were reduced and a speed-up of work and a longer day became the rule. "Since 1841," declared the Lowell Advertiser of October 28, 1845, "the operatives' wages have been cut down twice directly, besides being cut down indirectly by requiring them to do at least 25 per ct. extra work." Lowell, moreover, set the pattern for all mills using the Waltham system, and agreements existed among employers to follow the wage rates and production speed of the machines adopted at Lowell.?

Convinced that they had made possible a life of beauty and culture in the factories, the capitalists felt themselves betrayed when the factory operatives rebelled.2? They struck back viciously. In an early year, a single Lowell mill discharged twenty-eight women for such reasons as "misconduct," ""captiousness," "disobedience," "impudence," "levity," and even "mutiny."?? Later, young women working for mills operating under the Waltham system were required to "agree... to the Regulations which are now, or may hereafter be adopted, for the good government of this Institution." Included were provisions which bound the signers to work for such wages as the company saw fit to pay, not to leave the company's service without first giving two weeks' notice of intention, and, in any event, to be subject to loss of two weeks' pay. Finally, signers had to agree "not to be engaged in any combination, whereby the work may be impeded, or the Company's interest in any work injured; if we do, we agree to forfeit to the use of the Company the amount of wages that may be due to us at the time.

We also agree that in case we are discharged from the service of the Company for any fault, we will not consider ourselves entitled to be settled with in less than two weeks from the time of such discharge." | Any operative who refused to sign such regulations would have her name sent abroad to other companies as a "troublemaker" and would find herself effectively blacklisted throughout the mills,24 In 1834 and again in 1836, the female factory operatives took to the streets and paraded and rallied in response to wage cuts and accumulated grievances. These were indeed acts of great courage in light of the social conventions of the day, which frowned on such "unladylike" activities. But

rarely did these demonstrations last for more than a few days, and never did they result in the formation of a trade union.

Most of the young women either went back to work on the old terms or returned to their farm homes, cursing the factory owners who were trying to reduce them to the status of slaves, denouncing the "mushroom aristocracy of New England who so arrogantly aspire to lord it over God's heritage," and warning others to stay away from the "factory prisons."? A few of the unmarried factory operatives and penurious widows worked for the rest of their lives in the mills. But the majority were not proletarianized. They came from the nearby farms, and their earnings in the factories were their sole means of support. They could leave whenever they desired. Under these circumstances, their demonstrations were bound to be short-lived, more spontaneous outbursts of protest than trade union activity. \But in the 1840s the situation was drastically altered; gradually a more or less permanent working class began to emerge in the factories During the economic crisis of 1837-40, a good many farmers in New England had lost their farms. "As the New England farms disappeared," writes Norman F, Ware, "'the freedom of the mill operatives contracted. They could no longer escape.... a permanent factory population became a reality."26 Or as a contemporary labor journal emphasized in the summer of 1845, the workers in the mills were composed "of a large

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Foner, Philip S., ed. *The Factory Girls: A Collection of Writings on Life and Struggles in the New England Factories of the 1840's*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1977.

Footnote citation:

Philip S. Foner, ed., *The Factory Girls: A Collection of Writings on Life and Struggles in the New England Factories of the 1840's* (University of Illinois Press, 1977), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

ed., *The Factory Girls*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.45

Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England

Teresa Anne Murphy

SELECTION	abor Reform in the Thirties
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 51–52 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The presence of women in the larger regional movement pre¬ sented several problems for the men. Women in New England were organizing over the issue of wages, while men were focus¬ ing, by and large, on time. This was not surprising, since the wage cuts in factory work, at least, had a gender bias: piece rates rather than day rates had been cut, and most men in factories were paid by the day.[41] The only male textile workers to feel these wage cuts were mule spinners in southern New England (who do not appear to have organized a protest over these cuts). But how should women organize? Should women organize them¬ selves as men did? If so, how would issues of propriety be bal¬ anced against independence? Was the relationship between male and female workers economic or familial? Were women to pre¬ sent themselves as fellow wage earners or as sisters and daugh¬ ters?

It was a tricky issue, because in many cases women were hired at lower wages than men as various trades were industrialized. But in the pages of The Artisan, at least, women received some support. “A.Z.," for example, was concerned that even skilled female workers, such as mantua makers and tailoresses, were still barely able to provide for themselves. Moreover, the writer claimed, women who did work formerly done by men were often found by their employers to be better workers “because their habits are more regular"—but they were never paid as much as men, though they suffered “more from acute disease than any others of the working class." Shoebinders and seamstresses were even worse off.[42]

Charles Douglass, as editor of The Artisan, echoed this view in presenting his support for the workingwomen of Baltimore who demanded higher wages in the fall of 1833: "If we have a pair of pantaloons well made, it is of no consequence to us whether the labor was bestowed upon them by male or female hands." The article also stressed, however, that women must take respon¬ sibility for organizing themselves and not depend on others.

Women are entitled to the same amount of wages as men, for the same quantum of services, and ought to receive it. But nothing will be done to improve their condition so long as they are careless and indifferent about it themselves."4

However, Douglass was not as sympathetic to the issue of female wages as these comments suggest. When the women in Lowell began to show a similar move toward collective organiza¬ tion a few months later, Douglass was quick to acknowledge them. In the middle of March 1834, soon after their strike had begun, he made an appearance at Jefferson Hall in Lowell, both to encourage the women in their organizing activities and to critique their goals. He urged them to make a shorter workday their first concern, arguing that their lengthy workdays were currently constructed "merely to satisfy the unjust and unrea¬ sonable demands of avaricious employers."44 By ignoring the issue of wages, Douglass did not show much sensitivity to the plight of workingwomen or their demand for a wage level that, Thomas Dublin has pointed out, carried with it economic inde¬ pendence. Indeed, Douglass encompassed the female discourse of labor protest within that of the men, subordinating the issue of wages, which women had put forth, to the issue of time.

Author's Notes

41. Dublin, Women at Work, p. 102.

42. The Artisan, November 9, 1833.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Murphy, Teresa Anne. *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Teresa Anne Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England* (Cornell University Press, 1992), 51–52.

Shortened citation:

Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor*, 51–52.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.46

Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860

Thomas Dublin

SELECTION	hapter Seven. The Ten Hour Movement: The 1840s
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

phia, New York, and elsewhere had achieved the desired reduction in the hours of labor. These gains were made principally by strikes or threats of strikes and resulting collective bargaining between trade unions and employers' associations. These struggles also won governmental support at times, as in 1835 when the Philadelphia common council set 10 hours as the legal working day on local public works. The crowning success of the early movement came in 1840 when President Van Buren issued an Executive Order making ten hours the legal length of the working day for federal employees and workers on government contracts. Still, in the 1840s, workers in Massachusetts lagged behind their counterparts elsewhere in the country. In very few trades at this date did workers enjoy a ten-hour working day. Given the failure of skilled workingmen relying on economic actions, women operatives in the mills looked to the state legislature for redress of their grievances. Since the legislators had granted charters of incorporation to the textile firms in the first place, it seemed logical enough to address them for further regulation. Lowell operatives learned from the experiences of trade unionists in the previous decade, but they also benefited from their participation in a broader statewide reform movement. The first petitions came from operatives in Fall River and a number of other smaller mill towns in 1842. The next year a petition signed by 1,600 citizens of Lowell requested limitation of working hours in incorporated businesses. Petitions followed yearly, peaking in 1846, when Lowell organizers secured more than 4,000 signatures to their petitions, out of a statewide total of 10,000. Clearly the labor movement in Massachusetts had come of age, and women workers in the Lowell mills were at the heart of the struggle. In contrast to the turn-outs of the previous decade, the Ten Hour Movement brought together workingmen and women in united action. Women operatives predominated in both the rank and file and in the leadership of the movement, in the larger mill towns at least. Though outnumbered, workingmen still had the vote and thus played a decisive role in what was ultimately a political movement.

The new legislative strategy grew quite naturally out of the defeats of the earlier turn-outs. Having failed in opposing the corporations on the purely economic front, workers moved into the political arena. Although the turn-outs had 114 THETENHOURMOVEMENT: THE 1840 s demonstrated their economic subordination to the millowners, they maintained their belief in political equality and acted accordingly. The petition campaigns of 1845 and 1846 reveal well the attitudes that organized women workers brought to the new struggle. In 1845 about 1,150 workers signed petitions in Lowell, about three fourths of them women. In response the state legislature appointed an investigating committee, headed by William Schouler of Lowell. Schouler, editor of the procorporation Whig newspaper, the Lowell Courier, promptly wrote to the leaders of the petition campaign, J. Q. A. Thayer and Sarah Bagley, indicating that he would soon be hearing testimony with regard to the petitions. Though no advocate of an expanded sphere for women, Schouler noted that women would be expected to be the principal speakers.

"I would inform you," he wrote, "that as the greater the defence, or we shall be under the “necessity of laying it aside." If he had expected that this requirement would discourage the petitioners, he had miscalculated badly. Bagley took it upon herself to reply and informed Schouler "that we hold ourselves in readiness to defend the petitions referred to at any time when you will grant us a hearing." Several days later, eight operatives, six women and two men, received notices of the hearings and were directed to attend and give testimony. It was indicative of his intentions that Schouler chose which petition signers would testify and did not allow the organizers to select their own

representatives. The six women acquitted themselves well in their testimony. They were for the most part experienced operatives; although one had been working only 16 months, the rest had been employed in Lowell between four and eight years. In their testimony the operatives argued for the ten-hour working day, claiming that conditions in the mills were detrimental to their health.
They complained particularly about the shortness of breaks allowed for meals and the impurity of air in the mills, polluted by cotton dust and smoke from the oil lamps used to light the rooms. A reduction of the hours of labor, they argued, would improve their health and also benefit their "intellectual, moral and religious habits." After taking further testimony from men, including several who had not signed the petition, the committee adjourned to Lowell, visited several mills, and gathered material from mill agents. In the end the com-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dublin, Thomas. *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

Thomas Dublin, *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860* (Columbia University Press, 1979), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Dublin, *Women at Work*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.47

Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution

Anthony F. C. Wallace

SELECTION	The Evangelical Counterattack
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1978.

Excerpt

A curious customary mixture of moralities in the factories was developing, with some management actions and attitudes clearly aiming at the moral improvement of workers and others indicating indifference. These mixed messages pertained to the presence—and sometimes the absence—of work rules.

Work Rules in Cotton Factories

Beyond those rules of thumb that operatives had to learn and practice in order to run the machines efficiently and safely, every factory had a set of rules of a more general kind, some of them vaguely moral and some explicitly so. Sometimes these rules were printed; often, printed or in long hand, they were posted in the factories; frequently (although not at Riddle's mill) new hands were required to sign them.i Violation of these rules was enforced by a system of punishments.

Some of the rules were safety regulations of an obviously necessary kind. At Parkmount—and no doubt in every establishment in the industry —there was a fixed rule against smoking inside the mill. Oil and cotton dust were all about; in some places they made an explosive mixture, which could be ignited by sparks from a pipe or cigar. Violation of this rule was grounds for discharge. Fighting in the mill could also lead to discharge, for it could result in lost time, inattention, and damage to machinery and goods. Com¬ ing to work drunk would be grounds for dismissal.^

Other rules dealt with the organization of work. Punctuality had a peculiar importance in these early mills, far beyond what has become cus¬ tomary in later times when each machine is moved by its own electric motor, and this importance had nothing really to do with the Protestant ethic (although that ethic could be used to rationalize it). As we showed earlier, in mills of this era, whether powered by water or steam, each machine in the plant was driven by a belt attached to a line shaft running off the main shaft which was connected to the water wheel. Once the main shaft was connected to the prime mover, every shaft and every belt in the building began to turn. Although each machine could be disconnected from the shafting by moving a hand clutch, which shifted the belt to the loose pulley, the entire factory was designed mechanically to run under a full load of machinery. Furthermore, at the big mules and carding engines, where several people were required to service one machine, the absence of one little boy or girl piecer might immobilize not only the machine but also the mule spinner and another helper. And, since the machines were designed to run in line, so that cotton was moving continuously through the plant from one machine to another, the absence of workers to tend any machine could stop the entire factory by interrupting the supply of materials at one point and piling up excessive quantities at the next.

Rules about punctuality therefore were rigid. Tardiness was punished by docking wages or, if repeated, by dismissal—even in the case of the small children. Working conditions in the mills of two of the Chester Creek manufacturers were described in the 1837 Pennsylvania Senate investiga¬ tion, and the witnesses (including Riddle and Crozer and William Shaw, one of their past employees) all agreed on the severity of the punctuality requirements. William Shaw, who worked two years for the Riddles and then for Crozer, reported:

I have known work to commence as early as twenty minutes past four o'clock, in the summer season, and to work as late as half an hour before eight, P.M.; an hour and a-half allowed for breakfast and dinner, when the hands all leave to go to dinner—children and all; the ringing of the bell was the notice to begin, and docking wages the penalty; the

foreman rings the bell and stops the machinery. In the cities, the engineer rings the bell and stops the machinery.

The period of labor is not uniform; in some cases, from sun to sun. It is most common to work as long as they can see; in the winter they work until eight o'clock, receiving an hour and a-half for meals; an hour and a-half is the entire time allowed for going, eating and returning; and that time is often shortened by the ringing of the bell too soon.

Punishment, by whipping, is frequent; they are sometimes sent home and docked for not attending punctually; never knew both punishments to be inflicted; generally the children are attentive, and punishments are not frequent.

Riddle felt that the factory regimen in Northern Ireland, when he worked there as a youth, was more strict than in the Chester Creek factories: "Children suffered very much under that system. They got to adhere to their regular hours, pretty much. The time was still severe on them. There was a great deal of whipping there, we have not here." And Crozer noted that the children, if they were to be employed at all, had to work under the same discipline as adults: "... the work of children cannot be shortened, without also abridging that of adults, as the labor of one is connected with that of the other, being part of a system, which, if broken in upon, destroys a connecting link in the chain of operations.^

A related work rule mentioned by the Chester Creek witnesses was that children should be constantly attentive and not sleep in the mill (even if not at the moment actively employed). Violations of such rules were punished in a variety of ways: notifying the parent, sending home.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Anthony F. C. Wallace, *Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1978), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Wallace, *Rockdale*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.48

Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made

Robert F. Dalzell Jr.

SELECTION	Editor's Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

Editor's Introduction

Robert F. Dalzell's comprehensive, collective biography of the Boston Associates fulfills brilliantly one of the most challenging tasks of business history, that of placing businessmen and their activities in a broad cultural setting. The book that immediately precedes this study in the Harvard Studies in Business History, Steven Tolliday's Business, Bankers, and Politics, examines the complex interactions among indus¬ trialists, their enterprises, financial intermediaries and the state in the evolution of the British steel industry between the two world wars. Professor Dalzell depicts the evolving activities of industrialists on a different and an even broader canvas. He tells the story of a group of entrepreneurs who profoundly influenced economic, social, and polit¬ ical developments in Massachusetts and even the nation as a whole in the years between the War of 1812 and the Civil War.

The book opens by describing Francis Cabot Lowell's stay in Britain beginning in 1811. There he not only acquired a knowledge of the latest textile technology, particularly the power loom, but also observed the depressing impact of industrial change in Britain on both the rich and the poor. Returning to Boston, he and a few relatives and close friends including Patrick Tracy Jackson and Nathan Appleton built much more than just the first modern factory in the United States. Together they established a wholly new industrial process, "the Waltham sys¬ tem," to provide capital, to recruit labor, to market finished goods, and to purchase supplies—all on an unprecedented scale. Their im¬ pressive success at Waltham led these Boston Associates to build an industrial park at Lowell where the provision of massive water power permitted the construction on that site of many mills by several com¬ panies, all of which had members of the Associates on their boards of directors. As the Associates expanded to include Lawrences, Lymans, Cabots, Perkinses, Dwights, Brookses, and other Boston families, they built comparable industrial complexes on the Merrimac at Man¬ chester, New Hampshire, and Lawrence, Massachusetts, and on the Connecticut at Chicopee and Holyoke, Massachusetts.

On the basis of the wealth thus generated, the Associates invested in railways, banks, and insurance companies—activities providing them with essential services ancillary to textile manufacturing. The chapter describing these enlarged and diversified activities is followed by a fascinating discussion of how the Boston Associates spent their money on philanthropy—that is, primarily on socially useful non¬ profit institutions, including the Massachusetts General Hospital and its associated McLean Asylum, Harvard University, including the Lawrence Scientific School, Williams College, the Athenaeum, the Lowell Institute, and others. The chapter provides new views on why these donations were made and the way in which the Associates as trustees managed their finances. The final chapter is on the role of the Boston Associates in Massachusetts and peripherally on national pol¬ itics during the antebellum period.

Professor Dalzell has used archival sources as effectively as any business or economic historian. Yet the greatest achievements of this book are those of synthesis. What is new here is not so much the story of the innovation and development of specific technologies or indus¬ trial and business methods, but rather the motives for developing an integrated system and how those motives were reflected in the ap¬ proach of the Associates to new industrial and business opportuni¬ ties. As we follow the story we see how the group responded in ways that helped its members to maintain their identity and their economic and social position in the face of rapid economic and political change.

While they began as innovators "on a grand scale," ultimately they hoped, as Professor Dalzell emphasizes, "to check the thrust of change." Although that challenge was too great in the textile indus¬ try, they were able to achieve "for both themselves and their descen¬ dants, what had always mattered most: a secure and remarkably durable position at the top of the social order." Their approach to the creation of wealth and the institutions they built to maintain and to use that wealth still have a relevance today.

In sum, the study provides an outstanding example of a new and significant approach in the writing of business history by relating the business and economic activities of businessmen to the community in which they operate and by examining and analyzing the complex relations between the two as both change over time.

Alfred D. Chandler, Jr.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dalzell, Robert F., Jr. *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Robert F. Dalzell Jr., *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made* (Harvard University Press, 1987), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Dalzell, *Enterprising Elite*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.49

Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn

Alan Dawley

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 207–208 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1976.

Excerpt

The American labor movement fulfilled neither the great hopes of its friends nor the great fears of its enemies. It put several armies into the field, one behind the Knights of Labor, another behind the Federation of Organized Trades and Labor Unions, and others behind the issue of the eight-hour day, Henry George, Chicago anarchists, New York socialists, and a host of workingmen's parties from coast to coast. But this mass mobilization exceeded the capacity of the movement to organize the troops into a disciplined fighting force. Part of the reason for this failure lies in the meager resources of the still young and inexperienced trade union movement. Another part lies in the disorganizing effect of competing institutions, especially the two major political parties. And a third part lies in the limits of Equal Rights. So optimistic about the potential for reform, so sure of the basic goodness of the political system, so pleased with success, Equal Rights was unable to look beyond victory at the polls toward programs that would infringe upon the rights of property and effectively redistribute wealth to bring about the equality it so passionately desired. By the time the bomb exploded the past was wearing thin. The artisan radicalism of Equal Rights was no longer able to carry a working-class load, and the movement it inspired collapsed under its own weight.

Beyond Equal Rights

The Tree of Liberty, planted in the American Revolution and nourished by generations of farmers, mechanics, and industrial workers, spread its branches beside the institutions of industrial capitalism and for six decades after 1830 gave forth the lush fruit of egalitarian agitation: antimonopoly, fair wage, right to organize, cooperation, free soil, free labor. The fruit of Equal Rights satisfied the artisan taste for tart, radical criticisms of the new order and nourished the militant protests of the first generation of factory workers, as well. But ultimately, the Tree of Liberty died in the poisoned soil of industrialism, its withered fruit no longer satisfying to the second generation of factory workers, who demanded more complete, or at least more immediate satisfaction of their wants. The demise of Equal Rights opened the way for new forms of working-class political action; while some workers developed an appetite for the pure and simple rewards of officeholding, others felt a deeper hunger for radical changes in the political system.

In Lynn, the pork-barrel temptations of pure- and-simpleism lured most working-class voters back to the two regular parties. As the Knights of Labor declined and the Workingmen's party proved incapable of improving the daily lot of its supporters, the shortcomings of these organizations convinced a majority of politically active workers that their needs were not likely to be served worse by Republicans or Democrats. In fact, the last time a Workingman won tbe mayor's race, he was also supported by both Republican and Democratic organizations, a situation that gave labor independents horrible nightmares. The candidate combined ancient Yankee ancestry (he claimed descent from the first white person born in Lynn 250 years earlier) with modern Irish alliances (in state and national elections he worked for the Democrats, increasingly a party of Irishmen).[26]

Author's Notes

26. Transcript, Dec. 13, 1889; Fenno, Our Police, p. 94.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dawley, Alan. *Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1976.

Footnote citation:

Alan Dawley, *Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn* (Harvard University Press, 1976), 207–208.

Shortened citation:

Dawley, *Class and Community*, 207–208.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.50

The Age of Jackson

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr.

SELECTION	THE AGE OF JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 184–185 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1945.

Excerpt

Fanny Wright's vivid sense of impending revolution infected much of the Workingmen's movement. But not everyone favored state guardianship. A competing panacea was a form of agrarianism, expounded by Thomas Skidmore and Alexander Ming, Sr., which would cure society by redistributing the land. Skidmore set forth his plan in a verbose book, The Rights of Man to Property!, pubhshed in New York, in 1829, and he used to urge it in speeches, tearing off coat and neckcloth and arguing in a violent manner. But Skidmore was even more of a fanatic than the champions of "Equal, National, Republican Education," and the Workingmen's movement was soon purged of his erratic influence." Apart from state guardianship, the Owen-Evans wing was at first far from radical. Like all Workingmen's parties before the Bank War, it eschewed the fight against economic exploitation: "We desire to form Tto exclusive party; not even of the producers against the nonproducers." ^^ But, as the administration began to put its weight behind hard money, there were signs of awakening to the economic issue.

Fanny Wright began soon to call for two "indispensable" reforms, of which the second was "An Improved Circulating Medium," and the labor daily declared apologetically but firmly of paper money, "dry or not, this is a subject which the Workingmen must take up and examine." ("We have hitherto abstained from canvassing this matter at all," it went on to explain, "because we thought the subject of Public Education much more important.") ^^ led the Workingmen, already weakened by the inroads of a pseudo- Workingmen's organization under National Republican sponsorship, to return after 1831 to Tammany Hall, a union hastened by the Bank War. "Get the Workies to be up and doing on the U. S. B. question," wrote Cambreleng to Tammany early in 1832, adding accurately, "They are democrats in principle."^ published by Evans in 1833, signalized the conversion. It carried excerpts from Amos Kendall's Hickory Club speech on the cover, argued vigorously for hard money, and put it up to the laboring classes "to say, while they have the power, whether this republic shall, by banks, monopolies, and irresponsible legislation, become a nation of princes and paupers."

"In a little while," he concluded ominously, "it will be beyond their power to decide this question by any other means than force of arms." By 1834, when the Dedhcmt Patriot denounced Evans for being too

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Footnote citation:

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Little, Brown, 1945), 184–185.

Shortened citation:

Schlesinger, *The Age of Jackson*, 184–185.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.51

Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850

Bruce Laurie

SELECTION	Radicals: Thomas Paine's Progeny
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 81–82 · Supplied edition: Temple University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

Y)>|y((^(j^ radicals subsumed their phillipics under the broader context of ^ "republicanism. As other historians have observed, radical workers rrxyyO^il-hl "were not the only upholders of republicanism or the only Jacksonians '^ creed espoused by Americans of all classes and continually celebrated (^'ft ^^ in the oratory and iconography of the many national holidays ^"^ i/a -. i^v^ Lequality of opportunity, and freedo^^^^ rule, or much rule at all, and a justification of action in pursuit of these ideals. But each working-class subculture emphasized different facets of the republican ideal. To revivalists, republicanism affirmed a fluid and culturally homogeneous social order and the obligation to preserve it from foreign and domestic enemies. As it turned out, they usually saw such threats as external or foreign, and endorsed such corrective measures as tariffs and moral legislation of one sort or another. To celebrating national holidays with paeans to republicanism, radicals showed their repubUcan-revoiutionary spirit by dating their correspondence in terms of the years following 1776 and signing their publications with the pseudonyms of Revolutionary heroes. "^^ "Sherman" and "Jefferson," as opposed to "Franklin" who was worshipped by revivalists, were favorites along with such classical appellations as "Publicus" and "Rusticus"'*^ They considered

^> but also locked in struggle to complete the work of the Revolution.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Temple University Press, 1980), 81–82.

Shortened citation:

Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*, 81–82.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.52

Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement

Edward Pessen

SELECTION	The Leaders
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 98–99 · Supplied edition: State University of New York Press, 1967.

Excerpt

After his election, he was placed on the committees to draw up a report criticizing the New York City Common Council for refusing to provide a room to the National Trades' Union for its annual con¬ vention; to communicate with the Philadelphia labor movement about the ten hour strike; to prepare amendments to the Union con¬ stitution; to prepare plans for a daily paper to be put out by the Union; and to report on Judge Savage's decision against striking New York City workingmen. He was chosen to draw up a resolu¬ tion congratulating the members of a newly formed Albany trades' union; and in 1835 he made the major address at the second anni¬ versary celebration of the New York City trades' union. He also edited the daily newspaper of the New York union, the Union, a journal designed "to advocate the social rights and interests of the mechanics generally."

His record in the National Trades' Union was also a full one. The Proceedings tell us that "John Commerford, Journeymen Chairmaker's Society" delegate to the convention of 1834, was elected cor¬ responding secretary of the organization. In the following years he served as recording secretary and treasurer.

As was true of other New York labor and reform figures of the time, Commerford was keenly interested in political activity and played an important part in the Loco Foco movement. After the Panic of 1837, like John Ferral and other laborites, he became a fol¬ lower of Evans' land reform cause and worked in this movement for the rest of his life.

What significant generalizations are afforded by the varied labor careers of the unionists? These leaders of the early trades' union movement differ markedly from their present-day counterparts. They were not business unionists. A Luther and a Douglas were social reform agitators, as well as trades' union leaders, their interests ranging far beyond those problems directly relevant to unions. Varied types of affiliation to the labor movement could bestow leadership on an individual. A man could be an active officer, like Commerford, an editor of a sympathetic journal, like Brothers, a fiery orator or pamphleteer, like Fisk, and be accounted a leadingspokesman for American labor in each case.

A number of the early leaders seemed interested primarily in political careers. Moore, Slamm, and English used their union careers as springboards from which to leap into Democratic party politics. While they did not give up their labor sympathies, it seems clear that they considered the trades' union movement a means to an end.

Most of the leaders spent only a short time in the labor movement. Luther, Commerford, and Ferral, who tried to organize workingmen and who remained active in various labor organizations for a number of years, were unusual in their staying power.

They did not lead trades' unions because they had worked up from the ranks, for the most part. Oratorical ability and power of pen, rather than long years spent in a trade, determined the parts played by Douglas, English, Slamm, Moore, and even the "carpenter," Luther.

The unique characteristics of the Jacksonian labor leaders were very much the product of the equally unique movement they led. Short-lived unions determined the brief careers of their leaders. A labor movement whose members hoped to be spared the dismal ex¬ perience of a factory system or their reduction to the status of permanent wage workers, could and did easily proffer leadership to men who were not themselves workers. The time was ripe for men interested in leading labor primarily because they were convinced they knew the path to its redemption. In such an atmosphere there was room at the top of the labor movement for social reformers and

relatively educated men, as well as for dedicated journeymen mechanics.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Pessen, Edward. *Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement*. Albany: State University of New York Press, 1967.

Footnote citation:

Edward Pessen, *Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement* (State University of New York Press, 1967), 98–99.

Shortened citation:

Pessen, *Most Uncommon Jacksonians*, 98–99.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.53

Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	The Boundaries of Class
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 253–254 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

In all, by the mid-iSjos, it was possible to see the journeymen's movement—open in new ways to solidarity with women and laborers, adamant in its refusal to admit any masters—turning into still another kind of working-class movement extending beyond the trades. Indeed, it was even possible to see, in the unionists' editorials, demonstrations, and speeches, a still wider consciousness of the New York journeymen's place, as part of a larger American working class, restricted neither to New York nor to the crafts. Quite apart from their involvement in the NTU, the New Yorkers took an active interest in conditions and strikes throughout the country; the GTU, along with individual unions, came to support not only their fellow New York journeymen but also the female factory workers of Lowell, the operatives (including the children) of Paterson, organized wage earners in every conceivable trade and occupation. The unionists' rhetoric grew more expansive as well, to match their widened concerns. John Commerford fastened onto this sense of a larger unity of interest and tried to find the words to describe all the nation's wage earners as one, first as mechanics and workingmen, then as operatives, finally as the "family of labor," the "working classes."[61] So brief was the life of the union movement of the 18305, so new were its institutions, that this broader working-class consciousness never translated into a general association of New York's wage earners, let alone a national confederation of all workers. But that consciousness flickered in 1836, a mere three years after the journeymen had first set about organizing their own general union. It would burn long enough that the unionists, during the great wave of strikes in 1836, nearly found themselves at the head of an unprecedented kind of insurgency.

Radicalism and the Union

The rise and progress of the GTU, and its equivalents in other cities, was a central, transforming event in the history of American class relations. Although hardly "revolutionary" in the usual political sense (or in the sense in which Thomas Skidmore and his Working Men friends used the term), the New York journeymen's movement, like its allies elsewhere, established a new frame of reference for wage earners' protests, as a contest over clashing conceptions of labor and property. It also raised points that would remain important to labor movements over the rest of the century. Discussions of the effects of credit and the overexchange of commodities in the labor press of the 18303 prefigured the positions of the Greenback- Laborites of the 18708 and i880s. The promise of land reform and producers' cooperatives, presented in the speeches of Commerford and others, would constantly reappear in radical political platforms and some tradeunion programs. In the numerous GTU attacks on exploitation at the work place, we find the elements of a working-class (as opposed to "artisan" or "producerist") political economy of a kind that would be developed and elaborated by such later theorists as Ira Steward. It is no exaggeration to consider the emergence of the GTU and its counterparts elsewhere to be the birth of nineteenth-century American working-class radicalism, in almost all of its forms other than Marxism.[62]

The power, the possibilities, and the limitations of these radical notions and the GTU's consciousness of class became fully clear during the events of 1836. To understand these matters, however, requires looking well beyond the trade unions and the GTU. Many other kinds of unions appealed to New York's craft workers and their employers in the 18308, each of them with professed republican intents. Some complicated the trade unionists' efforts, others clashed

directly with GTU. Each affected the others. Each by turn shaped the progress and the meaning of the journeymen's revolt.

Author's Notes

61. Man, May 24, 1835; National Trades' Union, August i, 8, 1835; Working Man's Advocate, September 19, 183;; Union, April 21, 1836.

62. See Montgomery, Beyond Equality, 135-96, 230-60, 425-47. Maurice F. Neufeld presents some parallel observations,' but with a very different emphasis, in "The Persistence of Ideas in the American Labor Movement: The Heritage of the 18305," Industrial and Labor Relations Review 35 (1982): 207-20; cf. Neufeld's argument and David Montgomery, "Labor and the Republic in Industrial America, 1860-1920," Mouvement Social, no. 111 (1980): 201-15.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850* (Oxford University Press, 1984), 253–254.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Chants Democratic*, 253–254.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.54

Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution

Anthony F. C. Wallace

SELECTION	The Evangelical Counterattack
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1978.

Excerpt

I should think that it would be good, that boys should not be em¬ ployed until they were twelve, and until they can read and write. I think it would be better all round; it would not increase the wages of labor; it would be good for the rising generation, and better for the factory. Generally, the children in factories are not able to read and write; they would be inclined to learn, if they had the opportunity. It would be preferable to have girls put on the same footing, but as to age of employ¬ ment we do not consider it so important.

A system, such as I suggest, would operate very hardly on the poor people, unless you gave it time, by providing that it should commence a year or two as the public schools have been commenced.

... I think that a length of labor of sixty-six hours a week in Pennsyl¬ vania alone, would effect us so that we could not compete with other States. We pay higher for wages here than they do at the Eastward, and when times are bad, they can under-sell us, so that we have to stop.^

Crozer was also eloquent, but somewhat more defensive than Riddle, blaming the resistance to reform even more explicitly on the parents:

The adults employed in manufactories, have, within the last few years, expressed much anxiety to shorten the hours of labor, and have made application for this purpose, to their employers; no direct grant has been made, but the time has been somewhat shortened generally; the parents of children employed, have not, I think, taken an active part on this subject, probably from the fear, that a corresponding reduction of wages would follow; I think many employers might oppose abridging the hours of work, because it would then be necessary to increase the fixed capital of buildings and machinery, to obtain the same amount of work—but the strongest objections arise from the apprehension that a change in the time of work, unless it was of general application throughout the United States, would give other States an advantage over us.

Education is much neglected about manufactories; a large portion of the families employed, are those of indigent widows, who require the work of their children for support, or of idle, intemperate fathers, who do little or nothing themselves towards supporting their families: and these, especially the latter, have but little inclination to school their children, and it is frequently the case, when employers encourage the schooling of the children, the parents object and postpone, with the complaint of being “unable, the present, to lose the labor of the child”; employers have not always encouraged education; small operatives have often been scarce, and employers were therefore, desirous to retain the children in the factories; this difficulty has mostly disappeared on Chester creek, and perhaps in other places as small children have become more abundant.

I think legislative action, for the protection and education of factory children, desirable—yet, I am constrained to say, the necessity of the case arises more from the conduct of parents, than that of employers.^®

The manufacturers evidently were experiencing a moral dilemma. They were committed, at least as responsible citizens if not also as evangelical religionists, to the moral and mental improvement of the people, and especially of the children, who were connected with their mills. But success¬ ful management of a factory in a competitive market economy in their opinion required them to tolerate, or even create, noxious working condi¬ tions for their employees: denial of educational opportunity, exposure to profane and obscene language, promiscuous association of

the sexes and of different age groups in intimate working arrangements.

The solution was to urge reform, not in the mill but in the institutions of the community, and particularly in the educational system. The Pennsyl¬ vania Senate investigating committee in 1838 reported a bill which pro¬ vided that no children under ten would be permitted to work in factories; that children over ten who did work in factories, but could not read, write, or keep accounts, should be sent to school three months in every year of employment; and that children under sixteen should not be allowed to work more than ten hours per day.^ ^ But the bill did not pass; in fact it was never brought to a vote.

The manufacturers relied on the community to resolve the problem: on the parents to bring up their children properly; on the Sunday School to educate them and give them elementary religious instruction and moral guidance; on the newly created system of public schools (instituted in 1836 as a result of the Commonwealth law of that year) to provide free education to all children; and on the Sunday School teachers and clergy to instruct both children and adults in Christian duty.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Anthony F. C. Wallace, *Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1978), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Wallace, *Rockdale*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.55

Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850

Bruce Laurie

SELECTION	"We Are All Day Laborers"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 91–92 · Supplied edition: Temple University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

inauspiciously in late May of 1835, when the coal heavers on the Schuylkill docks left their jobs in protest against long hours. Parading through the city on June 3, they caught the eye of cordwainers peering through workshop windows. The cordwainers threw down their awls.and rushed to join the procession, shouting “Weare. all, day laborers!”!8 The mushrooming line of march attracted carpenters and other tradesmen in quick succession and precipitated spontaneous rallies of artisans throughout the city. Smiths, leather dressers, plumbers, painters, and cigar makers among others voted to standout by the end of the week. The republic’s first general strike was on; and general it was. The fervor reached into textile mills around the county and into the homes of outworkers, who normally had no interest in the hours question. But rate cuts forced the cottagers to work longer and faster The only form their struggle. for shorter.hours could take was a wage increase, and they struck., for rate advances. A festive air prevailed. There were great parades and rallies uniting workers with master craftsmen and other middle class sympathizers all bearing banners with variations of the motta “6 to 6.""}° Friendly shopkeepers displayed this battle cry in windows and youngsters chalked it on fences.2° Wage earners were seen everywhere except at their workplaces, which moved the United States Gazette to note the obvious: “Our buildings are at a stand, and business generally is... impeded.”?!

No one knows how. walked off their jobs or won mth = their point through. negotiation. On June 10, after some mechanics celebrated victory and others prepared to standout one newspaper counted twenty trades'still.on strike.? At least double that number— possibly as many as.20,000 workers~ participated in walkouts, and all were successful, though thé millhands compromised onan elevenhour day and some trades waited until the fall and following spring before announcing a ten-hour day.2} The laborers who had sparked the strike were among the most triumphant, of all, Those toiling on public projects in Southwark extracted a wage increase as well as an ordinance making ten hours a legal day’s work.”

Irish hand loom weaver John Ferral correctly pronounced the general strike an unexpected boon to the General Trades’ Union.?5 Membership, he happily observed, soared in the wake of the standout, as ad hoc strike committees created in the fervor of the moment turned into unions, and established societies inducted scores of journeymen. The inflow of new recruits, most of whom were strangers to trade unionism, transformed the G.T.U. from a small clique of radicals into a diversified union representing workers of various cultures.

Though declining working conditions pitted traditionalist and revivalist workers against employers, and ‘propelled them into the Trades’ Union, neither these conditions nor the euphoria of the general strike alone shaped the G.T.U. or sustained class unity. Such solidarity, in the 1830s, as in any period, could not be sustained without the cultivation of talented leadership.

Trades’ Union radicals were uniquely equipped for the task of fostering intraclass harmony. They appreciated the competing political and religious loyalties of their followers, and judiciously eschewed fractious issues for the sake of unity. Most of them, for example, supported the Democratic party, following the collapse of the Working Men’s.party. They vied for public office under the Democratic banner and served as party officials, but studiously refrained from pressing partisan causes at Union gatherings and steadfastly resisted the temptation to convert the Union into a party adjunct. When a well-meaning but misguided critic recommended allying with the Democrats, a Trades’ Unionist.rejected.the idea with the explanation that the G.T.U..welcomed “men of every party. A thousand different ideas would clash together and annihilate the institution in the moment the attempt [to merge] was made.”?6 Union leaders also toned down their hostility toward organized religion in recognition of the volatility of

the issue and in observance of Heighton's injunction: "Ler the subject of religion alone—or the death knell of our Associations will soon be sounded."27 With this in mind radical saddler and G.T.U. official John Crossin explained that the "followers of Christ acknowledge a time for all things—we do the same,"'* Affiliates of the Trades' Union thus barred the discussion of religion and the Union itself, "asked no qualification of birth or parentage—nor sign nor token to gain admission."

Radicals hewed to this policy outside the G,T.U. They were especially watchful of employers, politicians, and clergymen given to fomenting intraclass discord by exacerbating religious and ethnic tensions. John Ferral stood out as a voice of moderation and con-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Temple University Press, 1980), 91–92.

Shortened citation:

Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*, 91–92.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.56

The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol

Eric Burns

SELECTION	The Father of Prohibition and Other Kinfolk
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 79–80 · Supplied edition: Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Another cleric of note, the Reverend Justin Edwards, was no less passionate, declaiming that whiskey "has been among the more constant and fruitful sources of all our woes. Yet such has been its power to deceive men that while evil after evil has rolled in upon them, like waves of the sea, they have continued till within a few years knowingly and voluntarily to increase the cause.... Ministers preached against drunkenness and drank the drunkard's poison."

Not anymore they didn't, at least not in the same horrifying quantities as before. To the Reverend Lebbeus Armstrong of Moreau, New York, a nonpartaker of long standing and sincere motives regardless of the veracity of his book, "temperance seemed to have been sent by Providence for the salvation of men. It had been foretold by the prophets of old and was part of God's plan for blessing the world." The majority of his brethren now seemed to agree.

And some of them acted more than they spoke. Felix Francisco Varela y Morales, a Cuban-born educator and pastor, organized temperance groups in New York City in the 1830s. A decade later, Father Theobald Mathew, who had "come hot from Ireland to the New World to promote total abstinence," became an idol in his new land.

The last sentence exaggerates. The transformation of the clergy, however, cannot be exaggerated; the old sots had seen the light and become new men. But there were people who wondered why, people who, knowing their Bible, knew that Paul had told Timothy to have a few sips of the grape for his recurring illness. And they knew about other references in the Good Book that encouraged the use of alcoholic beverages, either directly or by implication, such as Jesus' turning water into wine. What were God's earthly representatives in nineteenthcentury America going to make of tales like these, appearing as they did in the Lord's own manual? How were they going to explain them by way of justifying their new outlook?

They were not. Instead, they simply disregarded such references. The Bible, after all, is a wondrously all-encompassing volume, and as the masters of the altar began to change their attitude toward booze, they found their new point of view emblazoned in scripture as clearly as the old. They found Eli's telling Hannah to get rid of her wine, an angel's assuring Zechariah that his son would drink no liquor and thus be filled with the Holy Spirit, and even Paul's doubling back on himself to declare that it was good neither to eat flesh nor to drink wine, and more forcefully, that drunkards should be included with murderers and sodomites as candidates for the fiery throes of eternal damnation.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burns, Eric. *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol.* Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Eric Burns, *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004), 79–80.

Shortened citation:

Burns, *The Spirits of America*, 79–80.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.57

Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865

Mary P. Ryan

SELECTION	radle of the middle class
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 140–141 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Excerpt

(at a time when credit records are available for the city of Utica), small businesses were still precarious operations. One firm in four was declared a failure, and the average business endured only six years or less. Utica

s shoemakers, those incorrigible reformers by local accounts, were particularly hard hit in the 1840s. The city sustained a dwindling proportion of cordwainers after 1840, and thus of moving slowly upward from the shoemaker's bench to becoming the owner of a small business were dramatically curtailed. The incidence of such advancement to independent proprietorship was cut

Simultaneously, the temperance movement projected revisions ladies honored in the Washingtonian hymnal seemed exempted from the economic burdens of husbands and fathers. Their spei put women's role this way: "with gentle weapons of filial, maternal “ and conjugal persuasion [to] accomplish more than men even if clad

„7° The details of this gentle ministry had been worked out not in the temperance movement but in the women's organizations that predated it, especially the maternal associations and female moral reform societies. These two associations devised methods of cultivating temperate habits and restraining sexual

These gender stereotypes of males as responsible, self-controlled breadwinners and of females as gentle nurturing mothers were flanked in the temperance literature by yet another central familial image - that of the young man about to depart from home for a new walk in life. Although such young men found opportunities to exercise some independence and establish autonomous associations among their peers in the city by the canal, they were also being pulled back into familial relationships that were deemed particularly supportive of moral reform. Some fathers made their son's inheritance contingent on keeping the Washingtonian pledge. The will of Ebenezer Ames, probated in 1854, illustrated this explicit connection between temperance and economic well-being. Ames granted his son's inheritance on the condition that he remain "free from all vicious habits and doesn't drink spirits or use tobacco in any form from boyhood to his twenty-first year." One Joseph Seaton resorted to a similar strategy for the reform of his son John, whose legacy was not to be awarded until he had "established a character for temperance and sobriety for the period of one year." training in temperance, purity, and prudence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ryan, Mary P. *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865* (Cambridge University Press, 1981), 140–141.

Shortened citation:

Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class*, 140–141.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.58

A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837

Paul E. Johnson

SELECTION	A SHOPKEEPER'S MILLENNIUM
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 138–139 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Excerpt

This solves the first problem raised by Tocqueville's analysis, but it confronts us with a second: the tendency to deduce the origins of religion from its social functions. Tocqueville stated that religion was strong in America because it created order among free individuals. We have seen that revivals did indeed create order, but only along lines prescribed by an emerging industrial bourgeoisie. Here we enter dangerous territory. For if we infer the causes of revivals from their results, we must conclude that entrepreneurs consciously fabricated a religion that suited their economic and social needs.' That would demonstrate little more than our own incapacity to take religion seriously. True, Charles Finney's revival at Rochester helped to solve the problems of labor discipline and social control in a new manufacturing city. But it was a religious solution, addressed to religious problems. The revival will remain unexplained until we know how social problems became translated into specifically religious unrest.

The businessmen and masters in Charles Finney's audience had been born into New England villages in which the roles of husband, father, and employer were intertwined, and they had reconstructed that village order on the banks of the Genesee. In the early years, disorder and insubordination were held in check, for master and wage earner worked together and slept under the same roof. Fights between workmen were rare, and when they occurred masters witnessed the intelligible and personal stream of events that led up to them. Wage earners loafed or drank or broke the Sabbath only with the master's knowledge and tacit consent. When workers lived with proprietors or within sight of them, serious breaches of the peace or of accepted standards of labor discipline were uncommon. At the very least, workingmen were constrained to act like guests, and masters enforced order easily, in the course of ordinary social and economic transactions.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Paul E. *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (Hill and Wang, 1978), 138–139.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium*, 138–139.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.59

Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England

Teresa Anne Murphy

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Laurie's workers appear even less militant than those in New York. He notes that while religiously inspired workers might petition for a ten-hour day, they would not strike for one, for that "was tantamount to acknowledging class polarities and denying the social fluidity that was the ideological keystone of revival¬ ism."7 We are left to wonder whether these ten-hour advocates in Philadelphia were simply subscribing to the philosophy of the middle class. Did religion provide them with any kind of lan¬ guage to describe themselves as workers in opposition to em¬ ployers, or was it a language that denied such opposition? Were working people asserting certain values that they did not share with their employers, especially when it came to issues of time?

My argument in this book is that many working people were unwilling to cede control of religion and moral reform to the middle class. In part, their perspective arose out of the popular evangelicalism of factory towns which challenged the authority of educated elites. Moral reform movements, such as the Wash¬ ingtonians, did the same, inverting traditional hierarchies and critiquing the pretensions of middle-class piety. Labor activists further elaborated these cultural conflicts as they moved beyond criticism, appropriating middle-class prerogatives in dictating moral standards, and attacking the social relations of paternal¬ ism that were so central to New England labor practices.

Many of the labor activists were evangelically inspired and committed to a broad range of reform activities. But religion and reform provided more than ideological commitment for participants, they also provided a common linguistic currency for the largely Protestant working people of New England. There were differences, however. The language of labor protest was far more historically situated than the language of religion and reform, and it was more attuned to differences of economic circumstance and industrial development. This in itself made labor reform far more threatening to the social order than revivals and temper¬ ance meetings.

The fact that religion and reform were shared languages rather than shared ideologies is an important point. The same language can be common to a large group of people, but the words can be given different meanings depending on who says them, how they are spoken, and under what circumstances. In this way the words are given different “accents." It is a process that allows for both communication and conflict as different groups struggle to control the meaning of the words.[8]

Author's Notes

8. V. N. Volosinov uses the term “accents” to describe the way in which different social classes compete to impart their own meanings to particular signs, resulting in their multi-accentuality. Particularly pertinent for the discussion which follows is Volosinov’s observation that "a sign that has been withdrawn rom the pressures of social struggle—which, so to speak, crosses beyond the pale of the class struggle inevitably loses force, degenerating into allegory and becoming the object not of live social intelligibility but of philological comprehen¬ sion. Marxism and the Philosophy of Language (Cambridge, Mass., 1973), 22-25. For further elaboration on the way in which this theory of multi-accentualitv can be applied, see Stuart Hall, “Deconstructing the Popular,” in People’s History and Social Theory, ed. Raphael Samuel (London, 1981); Michael Denning, Mechanic Accents: Dime Novels and Working-Class Culture in America (New York, 1987), pp. 82-84, and Mary Kupiec Cayton, “The Making of an American Prophet: Emerson, His Audiences, and the Rise of the Culture Industry in Nineteenth- Century America,” American Historical Review 92 (June 1987): 597-620.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Murphy, Teresa Anne. *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Teresa Anne Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England* (Cornell University Press, 1992), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.60

Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850

Bruce Laurie

SELECTION	Workers at Bay
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 157–158 · Supplied edition: Temple University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

The arrests did not appreciably deflect the course of the strike. Gang members patrolled the docks and the community for an entire week. They harassed would-be scabs looking for work at the job site or seeking quarters at local boarding houses. About fifty German strikebreakers worked under police protection by the end of the week, but they were a thin workforce, at best, and no substitue for the hundreds of coal heavers that usually unloaded the barges at Port Richmond. In the end, the gang seems to have overcome the police and the merchants. ^^ Traditionalist consciousness and behavior thus displayed elements of continuity and discontinuity with the past. One thread of continuity was the intense race consciousness and antipathy to Blacks riots, just as it had done throughout the previous decades. Another thread was class consciousness, the same "us-them, we-they" mennot really surprising. The grind of the mills was anathema to these neophyte industrial workers fresh from precommercial society. As one of them put it, Americans "work too hard"; the possibility of easing mill drudgery outweighed Irish revivalist abominations.^' Yet comparatively few Irish immigrants sweated over machinery little was heard from them in the second half of the forties. Even the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Temple University Press, 1980), 157–158.

Shortened citation:

Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*, 157–158.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.61

The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War

Bruce Levine

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: University of Illinois Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Immigration provided much of the human material with which the classes of industrializing America were built. Some new arrivals en¬ tered the ranks of the nation's economic elite, and many more found positions in the professions. Most impressive of all, however, was the central place that immigrants came to occupy within the nation's de¬ veloping working class. This became especially pronounced during the economic expansion following the crisis years of 1837—43. A report to the British Parliament in 1854 on the state of American manufac¬ tures noted that "German workmen are largely employed in many de¬ partments of industry." Indeed, they already composed a significant part of the work force here in some of the occupations most affected by early industrialization. Uprooted Irish cotters, meanwhile, streamed disproportionately mto the swelling ranks of unskilled labor. By the end of the next decade a British consular official here was reaching more sweeping conclusions about immigration and work in North America. Mr. Francis Clay Ford noticed a "decided disinclination" among the native-born "to share in the rough toil of purely muscular labor in which the newly arrived foreigner is readier to engage."

The effect on the composition of the country's labor force was already striking, and not only in the unskilled occupations. "Foreign is every day replacing native skilled labor," too, Ford reported. The U.S. af¬ filiates of the First International returned to this pattern repeatedly, and Protestant minister Samuel Fane Foomis observed late in the 1880s that while "not every foreigner is a workingman," still, "in the cities at least, it may almost be said that every workingman is a foreigner." The international recruitment of the American wage labor force had thus reinforced class divisions with ethnic ones. Rev. Foomis worried that "our own working people are even more widely separated from the rest of society than those in England, France, and Germany, be¬ cause the differences in occupation and wealth which are becoming nearly as great here as there are emphasized here as they are not there, by still greater differences in race, language, and religion."6

Recent scholarship confirms some of these impressions. Poring over manuscript census returns, Herbert Gutman and Ira Berlin discovered a "radical alteration [in] the composition of the American working class between 1840 and 1880." "In fact," they reported, "with a few important exceptions, after 1840 most American workers were im¬ migrants or the children of immigrants. In every American city and in almost every American craft, the disproportionate and generally the overwhelming majority of workers had been born outside the United States or were the children of men and women who were." The im¬ plications of these facts are profound: plainly, "it is impossible to ex¬ amine American working-class development between 1840 and 1880 by focusing on native white male laborers and factory workers, as so many historians have tried to do." The same strictures apply to the study of working-class ideals and values. The "roots and traditions" of immigrant-stock wage earners "did not reach back in time to John Winthrop and his Puritan City on a Hill," Gutman and Berlin noted. They led, instead, back "to the peasant and commercial farms and especially to [the] capitalist labor gangs, workshops, and factories of Europe."7

What specific eftects did this ethnic recomposition have on the or¬ ganizational and ideological development of the nation's growing wage labor force? What impact, moreoever, did it have on the nation's other social classes? "What did it mean to live in new and rapidly growing urban settings in which the vast majority of wage earners were not products of the [old] mainstream culture?"8 This book offers some answers to these important questions.

Advent of the Germans

Germans were the largest single group to enter nineteenth-century America. During the 1850s, when the antebellum German immigra¬ tion reached its peak, nine out of every ten continental European im¬ migrants hailed from the states of the later German Empire.^The in¬ fluence and impact of German workers went far beyond their numbers as they took the initiative in the economic and political activities of the working class.

Testimony to this effect was abundant. Reporting in 1850 that "the organization of the Trades into Protective Associations proceeds un¬ abated," Horace Greeley's New York Daily Tribune added, "No class of our population goes more effectively to work than our German artizans, who have held meetings nearly every evening during the past week, and have succeeded in uniting many of these trades into Unions."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Levine, Bruce. *The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Levine, *The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War* (University of Illinois Press, 1992), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Levine, *The Spirit of 1848*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.62

City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860

Christine Stansell

SELECTION	ty of Women, pp. 044-046
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 44–45 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986.

Excerpt

1840s, earning an income large enough to give their wives an entree to gentility.)Thus industrialization heightened differences among skilled workers as well as blurred their differences from the unskilled.

Between 1820 and 1860, the working class became largely immigrant: English, German and (most of all) Irish. The foreign-born population soared from 18,000 in 1830 to more than 125,000 in 1845, a proportional increase from 9 percent of the city's residents to 35 percent; by 1855, the Irish accounted for 28 percent of New York's populace, the Germans for 16 percent.Before 1846, the newcomers tended to be poor but not necessarily penniless: The Irish, for instance, were often Protestant farmers and skilled craftsmen from the North, although canal and railroad construction proj ects also drew thousands of Catholic peasants and cottiers who ended up as day laborers in the States. After the first crop failures of the potato famine in Ireland in 1845, however, distress became desperation, and Irish refugees began to arrive bereft of all but the clothes on their backs. Depression in the grain-exporting regions of northern Germany also sent a small, steady flow of poor German peasants into the tide of pauperized Irish. In 1855, an estimated three-quarters of the work force were immigrants. To be Irish in antebellum New York was almost certainly to belong to the working poor: a day laborer, a sweatshop worker, or an ill-paid manufactory hand. The situation of the Germans was a bit more varied. Those German farmers who had been able to sell off their land before migrating put their small capital into often successful shopkeeping-as bakers, tobacconists, tavern keepers and grocers. Most Germans, however, joined the working class as cabinetmakers, tailors and shoemakers in low-paid and insecure situations.

A small black population also figured in the ranks of the working poor. Strictly speaking, slavery did not altogether end in New York until r827- It had long been declining in the city, however, and beginning with the Revolution (when the British occupying the city had announced a general emancipation), the black community consisted primarily of freed men and women. As in other Northern cities, racial segregation was marked. Al though blacks lived in pockets scattered throughout the whole city (a pattern of dispersal among whites that accounts for the frequency of inter racial domestic feuds in the court records), they were often denied the use of public conveyances and almost always barred from working in the crafts. Black men worked as seamen, day laborers, waiters, barbers and whitewash ers, generally in menial, ill-paid and casualized situations.

The political economy of the city of women was distinct, although not unrelated to that of race, ethnicity and occupation. Family situations pro pelled women into the working class, and the relations of gender gave a distinct shape to the female experience of proletarianization. A woman's age, marital status, the number and age of her children and, above all, the presence or absence of male support determined her position in working class life. Any woman, whether the wife of a prosperous artisan or a day laborer's daughter, was vulnerable to extreme poverty if, for some reason, she lost the support of a man. With the expansion of manufacturing em ployment after 1830, young single women might earn some kind of a living for themselves, but married women with children experienced the loss of men's wages, either through death or desertion, as devastating. The sea sonal moves that men made to find work enhanced their women's vulnera bility. Tramping artisans and migrant laborers could die on the road or take advantage of the moment to abandon their families, and even loyal hus bands could find it hard to get news and money back to children and wives in New York. The frequency of occupationally related accidents and dis ease in men's employments contributed to a high rate of male mortality, which also left many women as the breadwinners

for their families. Men, too, suffered when their wives died or left them. The loss of women's housekeeping services, along with whatever income they contributed, created hardships for widowers and deserted husbands. Nonetheless, a woman's absence alone was not sufficient to imperil a husband's livelihood, while a wife cast on her own faced the specter of the Almshouse.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stansell, Christine. *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986.

Footnote citation:

Christine Stansell, *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1986), 44–45.

Shortened citation:

Stansell, *City of Women*, 44–45.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.63

The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class

David R. Roediger

SELECTION	ON AUTOBIOGRAPHY AND THEORY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 11–12 · Supplied edition: Verso, 1991.

Excerpt

They [US labor historians] often prefer to wrap themselves in fashionable Europeanisms and to write as though their favorite, northern, European American workers lived out their destinies divorced from slavery and racism, as though, say, Chartism meant more in the history of the American working class than slavery. 19

Painter's observations bring us nicely back to the suppressed question of whiteness and the need for Marxists to fully reconceptualize the study of race and class. There can be no assumption that the whiteness of the white working class deserves exploration only when we begin to discuss the history of race relations in labor organizations. Rather, race has at all times been a critical factor in the history of US class formation.

The Essential Du Bois

The analysis offered in the preceding section suggests that, at least in the US, the most pressing task for historians of race and class is not to draw precise lines separating race and class but to draw lines connecting race and class. We can get this attention to how race and class interpenetrate from several sources - for example, in the best of Stuart Hall's and Alexander Saxton's works, and to an extent in recent studies of 'racial formation'20 - but no body of thought rivals that of W.E.B. Du Bois for an understanding of the dynamics, indeed dialectics, of race and class in the US. Du Bois wrote as a Marxist but also brought additional perspec tives to the study of race and class. He was within the broad Black nationalist tradition that Sterling Stuckey has so well portrayed, and from that tradition gained a perspective intelligently critical of over simplified class analysis. He, like Toni Morrison, C.L.R. James, James Baldwin and other acute African-American students of the 'white problem', clearly saw whiteness not as natural but nevertheless as real and as problematic in intellectual, moral and political terms. Finally, Du Bois enjoyed the advantage of a critical appreciation of Max Weber's thought on race and status and an ability to borrow critically from Weber as well as from the Marxist tradition.

Thus, Du Bois's Black Reconstruction continually creates jarring, provocative theoretical images, mixing race and class by design. Black reconstruction is, for Du Bois, the key to the story of 'our [the US] labor movement'. The book is organized around the activities of workers, but those workers function, for Du Bois tragically, within racial categories: the first chapter is entitled 'The Black Worker' and the second 'The White Worker'. White labor does not just receive and resist racist ideas but embraces, adopts and, at times, murderously acts upon those ideas. The problem is not just that the white working class is at critical junctures manipulated into racism, but that it comes to think of itself and its inter ests as white.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Roediger, David R. *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class*. London: Verso, 1991.

Footnote citation:

David R. Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class* (Verso, 1991), 11–12.

Shortened citation:

Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness*, 11–12.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.64

Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers

Graham Russell Gao Hodges

SELECTION	“Desirable Companions
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 10–11 · Supplied edition: Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998.

Excerpt

“Desirable Companions and Lovers” Irish and African Americans in the Sixth Ward of New York City, 1830-1870 In 1850, George Foster, while guiding his readers through a midnight tour of the infamous Five Points, reflected on the frequency of intermarriage among African American males and Irish women, who, Foster believed, regarded their husbands as “desirable companions and lovers.”! Foster’s observations fall sharply apart from historical perceptions of the relationships between Irish and African Americans in antebellum New York City. Pointing to an Irish embrace of pro-slavery ideology, opposition to black suffrage, antagonism over work, and periodic Irish violence toward blacks, historians have constructed a paradigm of irreconcilable racial conflict.2 A second, related approach emphasizes Irish acculturation through embrace of American racism. Designed to explain the role of race in working-class culture, this perspective, emphasizing the environmental and historical context of racial conflict, explains how the Irish earned “the wages of whiteness” to grasp a tenuous foothold in the American working class.> In numbers and commonality of experience, the lives of Irish and African Americans epitomize the experiences of ordinary New Yorkers in the burgeoning nineteenth-century metropolis. By adding consideration of the gender and racial contexts of their relationships, it is possible to move beyond the fractured paradigm of class that perwadeac hictarniral dicriucojian af tha antoakallies ————e“”-”|-——l le and black laborers in New York during the antebellum years, historians have little close description or succinct analysis of their work or culture.4 One reason is that historians of the antebellum working class have studied industrial laborers primarily as prototypes of the modern, class-conscious proletarian or as pursuers of the American dream, seekers of middle-class fortunes inaccessible in Ireland.5

There is, it should be admitted, evidence of racial animosity over work even before the notorious Draft Riots of 1863. In one incident, in 1855, after white stevedores struck for higher wages, blacks replaced them. Fighting soon erupted between the discharged Irish and blacks. After the strike was settled, white longshoremen supplanted the blacks. However many disturbing examples one may find of contention between the Irish and African Americans, there are some countervailing examples of cooperation. In 1853 black waiters agitated for higher wages and won pay of $16 a month to the white waiter’s $12. A black man attending a later meeting of white waiters advised them to go for even higher wages. On March 31, 1853, the New York Times reported that black and Irish waiters had formed a union and gone on strike. On this occasion, the Irish and African Americans, often portrayed as irreconcilably hostile in the workplace, shared goals including wage protection and reduction of hours.’

There are additional problems, beyond those tantalizing fragments, to historical visions of irreconcilable racism. Scant attention is given to variations within the Irish populace itself, which, by virtue of more than 1.1 million immigrants arriving at the port of New York between 1847 and 1860, amounted to one in four New Yorkers by the onset of the Civil War. Some of the divisions among the Irish dated back to their home towns. Within the Sixth Ward, County Sligo men and women gravitated to upper Mulberry Street, Corkonians to the lower part of Mulberry, and Kerryonians to nearby Orange (later Baxter) Street.8 Although the growth of the Irish populace dwarfed the African American population of the city, concentrations of blacks in certain wards ensured daily contact between the two groups.

This chapter is about the complexity of Irish and African American relations in the New York City’s turbulent Sixth Ward between 1830 and 1870. This ward was the crucible of Irish-black relations. African Americans had lived in the

area since the 1640s and later shared it with republican-minded journeymen and carters. The remnants of the Negro

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hodges, Graham Russell Gao. *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers*. Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Graham Russell Gao Hodges, *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers* (Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998), 10–11.

Shortened citation:

Hodges, *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers*, 10–11.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.65

The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict

Michael Feldberg

SELECTION	JACKSONIAN PHILADELPHIA
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 13–14 · Supplied edition: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Excerpt

It may be too much to say that Philadelphians suddenly lost their sense of community13 in the Jacksonian years; on the contrary, some recent work has shown that the city had been long divided by chasms between the rich and the poor, the native-born and the immigrant. One historian, John K. Alexander, has called Philadelphia in the 1790s the "city of brotherly fear."14 Yet, in the Jacksonian period it seems that Philadelphia was more seriously splintered than ever before into a myriad of class, racial, ethnic, religious, and occupational communities. Then as now, ethnicity, race, and religion tended to assign different groups and classes to different ranks in society: native white Protestants perched at the top of the social and economic pyramid; native skilled artisans, small businessmen, and clerks held the middle; and blacks, Irish and German immigrants, and native-born laborers filled out the broader bottom. An investigation into occupational and economic mobility in Philadelphia during the 1840s by Stuart Blumin tends to suggest that the upward mobility for individuals once believed to have characterized the Jacksonian era was beginning to narrow for the city's working people and that economic and social disabilities in general were becoming harder to overcome. Per¬ haps the increasing occupational competition among the various religious and ethnic cliques in those years helps explain the tendency of workingclass Philadelphians, many of them recent immigrants, to find themselves locked into their places in the lower orders.

Whatever the entanglements and subtleties of class, ethnic, cultural, or racial distinctions, one observation about the 1840s pushes its way to the fore and particularly intrudes into the story of the Native American riots: while all individuals belonged simultaneously to a particular class, racial or ethnic group, religious denomination, and occupation,.most persons usually chose one of these identifications as primary at any given moment and subordinated the others to it. Thus in the late 1820s and the 1830s, both native-born skilled artisans and semiskilled immigrant Irish handloom weavers saw themselves as members of a united working class or, in the parlance of the day, mutual occupants of the "lower orders." They joined together to form a citywide trades' union, which won several hundred strikes for higher wages or shorter hours in the years before the depression of 1837. By the 1840s, the onset of economic hard times combined with the cultural differences between native Protestants and Irish Catholics to throw the two groups into competition with each other and destroy their class solidarity. Almost every one of the new groups and subcommunities that emerged in the Jacksonian era was organized according to some strict principle of exclusiveness, and by the 1840s ethnicity and religion became the dominating criteria. Unions, clubs, fire companies, gangs, neighborhoods, schools, orphanages, hospitals, benefit societies—the network of social institutions that permitted the city to function-were restricted in membership wherever possible to those who shared a common form of worship or a similar view on the benefits or evils of rum or the accident of birth on American soil.

Philadelphia's weak peacekeeping machinery encouraged competing or hostile ethnocultural subcommunities to use physical force in resolving their disputes and power struggles. Although working-class groups were more likely than their middle- and upper-class counterparts to resort to open street warfare, groups from every part of the social spectrum used violence at one time or another in their dealings with other groups. While wage earners destroyed property and physically intimidated their em¬ ployers in order to win wage-and-hour struggles, well-dressed gentlemen from the opposite end of the income scale were burning Pennsylvania Hall. Similarly, when the working-class residents of Front Street in Kensington rioted against the Philadelphia and Trenton railroad, the neighborhood's prosperous landlords (including a local alderman) joined them to prevent the unwanted intrusion. At

times, Philadelphia crowds proved quite democratic in their entrance requirements as well as effective in presenting their arguments.7

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feldberg, Michael. *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict*. Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict* (Greenwood Press, 1975), 13–14.

Shortened citation:

Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844*, 13–14.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.66

The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America

Michael Feldberg

SELECTION	THE TURBULENT ERA
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 62–63 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

Jacksonian labor and economic violence served to reinforce solidarity among urban working-class groups. Philadelphia's handloom weavers were clustered in the city's indus¬ trial suburbs, particularly Kensington, Southwark, and Moyamensing. Unlike textile workers in Massachusetts or Rhode Island, they were not yet gathered into large spinning and weaving mills. Instead, Philadelphia's handloom weavers tended to work in small shops under the direction of a master weaver or in their own modest homes with their wives and children. Those who toiled at home usually contracted work with a merchant, master weaver, or employer who supplied the raw wool or cotton. Each individual weaver then spun the raw material into thread and wove it into cloth. The employer col¬ lected the finished goods and sold them in local or national markets. Weavers were paid on a piece-rate basis, that is, they were paid for each piece of cloth actually completed rather than by the day or the hour. Ever since the Panic of 1837, Philadelphia's handloom weavers, many of whom were Irish immigrants or their children, had suffered from steady declines in their piecework rates.

In 1842, the weavers' union tried to force employers to restore the piecework rates they had been paying before the depression, but the merchants and masters claimed that their slowly recovering profits could not yet support a wage increase. Employers insisted that a wage hike would drive up prices and make their products noncompetitive with those produced in New England's power-driven mills. Consequently, in the summer of 1842, organized handloom weavers struck in Kensington and South¬ wark, but employers had no difficulty in locating scab workers willing to weave at the prevailing rates. Many of these scabs were newlyarrived Irish immigrants with few alternative employment oppor¬ tunities in the slumping Philadelphia economy and no ties to the handloom weavers' union. Thus the strike pitted not only weavers against their masters and employers, but Irish countrymen against each other. It was from this

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feldberg, Michael. *The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Michael Feldberg, *The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America* (Oxford University Press, 1980), 62–63.

Shortened citation:

Feldberg, *The Turbulent Era*, 62–63.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.67

How the Irish Became White

Noel Ignatiev

SELECTION	AFTERWORD
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 185–186 · Supplied edition: Routledge, 1995.

Excerpt

Apparently the labor historians have made little progress since Du Bois wrote those lines. The survey of the history of class struggle in America is yet to be written. There are, however, several recent books that represent a new departure. The first of these is The Rise and Fall of the White Republic by Alexander Saxton.[18] The author sees little difficulty in understanding how the theory of white superiority arose out of the need to vindicate a class of people that grew rich from the slave trade, slavery, and the expropriation of land from nonwhite populations; the more formidable problem is to explain why nonslaveholding whites acquiesced either in planter dominance or its justifications. The Rise and Fall, then, is a study of the role of white supremacy in legitimating the changing class coalitions that ruled the U.S.in the nineteenth century. Contrary to the fictions of the white labor apologists, "the hard side of racism generally appeared in nineteenth-century America as a corollary to egalitarianism" (186). Whiggery was shaped, above all, by class position; within the Whig social hierarchy, "racial difference could be viewed... [as] simply one among many" (70).

Northern Whig employers felt the greatest threat from the insurgent immigrant population, while their attitude toward nonwhites was often one of tolerant condescension. For the Jacksonians, needing to cement a coalition based on white egalitarianism, racial distinctions were central. "Their natural proclivity was to the hard side of racism" (120).Accordingly,"class differentials dissolve into a sentimental oneness of the white herrenvolk" (123). David Roediger also explores the problem of white ideology, with specific attention to the working class. He asks "why the white working class settles for being white" (6) and finds the answer in Du Bois's notion of the "public and psychological wage." The "pleasures of whiteness could function as a wage" (13) which led "many workers [to] define themselves as white" (6). To trace the evolution and effects of that wage is the task of The Wages of Whiteness. Although Roediger locates himself within the "broad tradition" of the New Labor History, and uses Marxist tools, he acknowledges that "the new labor history has hesitated to explore 'whiteness' and white supremacy as creations, in part, of the white working class itself" (9) and that "the main body of writing by white Marxists in the United States has both 'naturalized' whiteness and oversimplified race, reproduc[ing] the weaknesses of both American liberalism and neo-conservatism" (6). "Working class formation and the systematic development of a sense of whiteness went hand in hand for the U.S.white working class," writes Roediger (8). Ifthe color line paid a "public and psychological wage," the cost was a "debased republicanism," condemnation to "lifelong wage labor" (55). He concludes with an appropriate symbol: by the end of Reconstruction, "white workers were still tragically set on keeping even John Henry out of the House of Labor" (181).[19]

Both of these books are welcome challenges to the old and new mythmakers. Another study which sheds light on race formation is Richard Williams, Hierarchical Structures and Social Value. According to Williams, some people from Africa became unfree laborers in America because, at a time when the plantations of the Western Hemisphere were crying for labor, West African societies produced a surplus population that could not be exploited at home. "IfEuropeans had been assigned to [the unfree labor slot] the mark of vertical classification...would have been something other than skin pigmentation" (85-6). In short, people from Africa were not enslaved because they were black; rather, they were defined as black because they were enslaved.

Turning his attention to Ireland, Williams traces the developments that ultimately led to the formation of a massive surplus population following the Napoleonic Wars. "The expulsion of a portion of the peasantry from Ireland has become the 'Irish migration'... " (132).

"Ethnicity," he argues, "cannot exist without race" (2). In Britain, the Irish constituted a subject race. Because blackness was the badge of the slave in America, people from Ireland who went there entered the free labor system, which made them part of the dominant race. As unskilled workers, they occupied the lowest place within it. Ethnicity marked the spot. Through a process parallel to the creation of race, "a segment of Irish society became identified as the Irish in the United States" (100).

Author's Notes

18. I have been led to this view in part by reflecting on recent events in Howard Beach and Bensonhurst, New York City.

19. Michael Feldberg, The Turbulent Era: Riot and Disorder in Jacksonian America (New York, 1980), 4-5; David Grimsted, "Rioting in Its Jacksonian Setting," American Historical Review 77: 2 (April 1972):361-97. There is a voluminous theoretical and documentary literature on rioting in Jacksonian America, much of it stimulated by events of the 1960s.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ignatiev, Noel. *How the Irish Became White*. New York: Routledge, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Noel Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White* (Routledge, 1995), 185–186.

Shortened citation:

Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White*, 185–186.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.68

Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore

Seth Rockman

SELECTION	Scraping By
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 40–41 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

In other Southern cities, the free black population was predominantly light skinned, and manumission was frequently the result of being the son or daughter of the owner himself. In places like Charleston or New Orleans, free people of color typically formed a "black middle class," with men working in skilled trades and in a few cases even owning other African Americans as slaves (protecting their own wives and daughters from paid labor). The situation was quite different in Baltimore, where the free black population was overwhelmingly poor and dark skinned, and owed its freedom to the transformation of the regional economy, not a blood relationship. Free people of color generally entered Baltimore directly out of slavery, with no capital, tools, or training in a craft skill. Fortunate free people of color worked for themselves as carters and laundresses, but most found few job options beyond common labor and domestic service. In those capacities, however, free people of color could be seen as valuable to Baltimore's economy.

"Every reasonable person will admit that he respects much more the orderly industrious African than the drunken idle white man, whether emigrant or native," explained almshouse trustee Thomas W. Griffith. Time and again, Baltimore employers resisted the opportunity to narrow the range of workers at their disposal. Take, for example, their involvement in the colonization movement, an organized effort to remove free people of color from the United States. Whereas some early advocates saw colonization as a humanitarian step toward ending slavery, others hoped to purge the nation of its free black inhabitants. In 1817, Henry Clay, the president of the American Colonization Society (ACS), touted the possibility of exiling a "useless and pernicious" population to Liberia. Baltimore's Francis Scott Key was a founding member of the ACS, but the vast majority of support in Maryland came from rural slaveholders who saw free blacks as a threat to the future of slaveholding. So invested was Maryland as a whole in the project of deporting black people (especially manumitted slaves) that the state founded its own African colony in the early 1830s.

Ships transported over 600 black Marylanders to Africa in the 1830s; only eight passengers hailed from Baltimore. Free people of color in Baltimore denounced the colonization project, and urban slaveholders showed little interest in making exile a condition of manumission. Likewise, most Baltimore employers were uninterested in reducing the scope of the labor pool.®

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rockman, Seth. *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Seth Rockman, *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009), 40–41.

Shortened citation:

Rockman, *Scraping By*, 40–41.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.69

Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850

Bruce Laurie

SELECTION	"The Uses of Adversity"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 129–130 · Supplied edition: Temple University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

Protestant church and sect—Arminian and orthodox, evangelical and otherwise—coalesced in the American Protestant Association, which blanketed the city with foreboding comments on Catholic literature, hawked Protestant propaganda pretending to uncover the resurgent Catholicism predicted by the prophet Daniel, and, on the lecture circuit, exhorted responsible Protestants to rally in defense of God, country, and republican virtue. ^^ arena and revitalized an anti-immigrant movement which had been operating without much success since 1837. American Republican Associations, the political analogue of the American Protestant Association, awakened new interest in the winter and spring of 1843.

They promoted a measure that would deny suffrage to the immigrants for twenty-one years after arrival in the United States and would also bar them from public office. Their program took on new relevance in the heat of the school controversy and American Republican clubs, heretofore paper organizations, spread throughout the county. ^8

Clark fanned these nativist flames. A member of the Kensington School Board, he was inspecting district classrooms in February of 1844 (and perhaps looking to promote his own political fortunes), when a teacher complained of disruptions that occurred as Catholic children departed prior to the bible reading. Clark might have disregarded the observation, but instead, took it upon himself to order an immediate suspension of the bible reading until the School Board worked out another arrangement. Sensible Philadelphians did not take kindly to Clark's measure. Even the Spirit of the Times, a the school controversy galvanized Protestant groups among the coherent movement. His action became grist for the mill of demagogues, like Levin, who merged their temperance forces with those of candidates crying "Save the Bible!" and demanding Clark's dismissal made strong showings in select wards.^^ Emboldened by their success and spurred into provocative acts by their histrionic leaders, American Republicans resolved to test the mettle of their adversaries on Clark's home ground and scheduled party rallies in Kensington. With these meetings, class and cultural currents of the depression years converged. On one side was Clark, surrogate for Irish Catholicism and the Irish Catholic community, whose weavers were in the midst of a bitter strike against Clark himself; on the other was Levin, Clark's counterpart among evangelical and nonevangelical

Protestants, whose own followers had closed ranks behind striking class cleavages dissipated, as weavers perceived an even greater threat in nativism and sided with Clark.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Temple University Press, 1980), 129–130.

Shortened citation:

Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*, 129–130.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.70

Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America

Kerby A. Miller

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 231–232 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

Protestant landlords, employers, and, ultimately, the Tory party leaders and the Irish administration in Dublin Castle. In short, the Orange lodges provided much of the institutional infrastructure, as well as the symbolism, of the emerging Irish Protestant "nation." Save in 1835-41, when the Whigs ruled Ireland in alliance with Catholic liberals, the British government extended protection and patronage to Orangemen to foster Protestant loyalty and solidarity. As the son of a United Irishman reported in dismay, the consequence was that Protestants and Catholics no longer could "behold their grievances thro' one focus.... The Government have connived at a disunion of the people & they have succeeded to the full extent of their wishes." Every twelfth of July, lamented another critic, huge Orange processions "were led on by Lords and Noblemen actuated by self interest, the Vulgar throng not thinking that they were a Government tool to support oppression or a Cripple leg for the Church [of Ireland] to stand on." However, membership in the Orange Order not only gave the "Vulgar" a spurious sense of community with their exploiters but also provided an armed paramilitary organization, protected by a sympathetic magistracy, with which they could confront the threat of Catholic competition. Thus, in south Ulster and other areas where members of the two religions were evenly balanced, Orangemen and Ribbonmen— their Catholic counterparts— waged fierce sectarian warfare: in counties such as Armagh pitched battles at fairs and "the most cruel and atrocious murders and burnings" became common occurrences.[54]

Author's Notes

54. J. McBride, 24 Feb. 1822 (T.2613/6, PRONI); Broeker, 5, 14-15; J. Steele, 15 May 1797 (Ephraim Steele Mss., Acc. #3876, SHC/UNC-CH); D. Polin, 2 June 1818 (BI); J. McMahen, 27 July 1832 (McMahon Mss., MIHC); D. and M. McCullogh, 17 Oct. 1829 (McCullough-Hutchinson Mss., DUL).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Miller, Kerby A. *Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1985.

Footnote citation:

Kerby A. Miller, *Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America* (Oxford University Press, 1985), 231–232.

Shortened citation:

Miller, *Emigrants and Exiles*, 231–232.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.71

The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict

Michael Feldberg

SELECTION	The Nativists
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Excerpt

3 The Nativists

Until recently, most historians assumed that the efflorescence of nativism in the 1840s represented little more than another outburst of anti-Catholic prejudice historically endemic in the great mass of American Protestants. This narrowly religious interpretation of nativism in the 1840s was first propounded by several Catholic scholars, but given its most widely read and accepted formulation in Ray Allen Billington's Protestant Crusade: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism. After reviewing the reams of anti-Catholic literature generated by Protestant writers and lecturers in the 1840s, Billington concluded that the rise of nativism "could never have occurred had not the American people been so steeped in antipapal prejudice." Their hatred of Roman Catholicism "had been well grounded before the first English settlement and was fostered by the events of the entire colonial period." In order to explain why nativism flourished in the 1840s in particular, Billington had to concede that the arrival of Irish and German immigrants, rather than religious hatred in itself, rekindled the old fires of intolerance. The newcomers, he noted, were resented for a number of reasons: their poverty, their high crime rates, their poor sanitary habits, and their tendency to clannishness. Despite this social dimension to the anti-immigrant upsurge, however, Billington's analysis of nativist complaints against the new arrivals con¬ vinced him that the social arguments were simply rationalizations for the religious bigotry Protestant native Americans harbored in their hearts.

Fundamentally, the aliens were opposed because they were Catholics rather than because they were paupers or criminals. The preponderant number of papal adherents among the Irish and Germans coming to the United States made Americans wonder again if their land was safe from Popery and fears were current that this immigration was a means by which Romish power could be transferred to America.

This religious interpretation of 1840s nativism reigned unchallenged until the 1950s, when a newly emergent interest in the social and psychological roots of prejudice stimulated historians to undertake a reevaluation of antebellum bigotry. Billington and the Catholic scholars simply assumed the existence of religious prejudice and used the phenomenon itself to explain the behavior of Protestant nativists. The later studies of the nativist phenomenon have taken the analysis one step further, identifying the social characteristics of the nativists as a means for explaining the sources, rather than the symptoms, of their prejudice. Interestingly enough, the historians, sociologists, and psychologists who undertook these re¬ visionist studies reached a conclusion similar to Billington's: that nativist complaints had little to do with the intrinsic character or behavior of the immigrants themselves. But these newer explanations of nativism go well beyond the simplistic one offered by the older religious interpretation. According to scholars such as Richard Hofstadter, David Brion Davis, and Seymour Martin Upset (for convenience they will be referred to here as the pluralist analysts of nativism),4 the immigrants served as a symbolic scapegoat onto which the nativists displaced their own social and psycho¬ logical anxieties. The problem, as the pluralists saw it, was not to identify what it was about the immigrants—their Catholicism or their crime rates— that provoked the rise of nativism, but rather what it was that troubled the nativists themselves to cause them to respond so excessively to the presence of the immigrants.

Perhaps the most widely read analysis to come out of the new psycho¬ social history of American nativism was Richard Hofstadter's influential article describing "The Paranoid Style in American Politics." In Hofstadter's

estimation, a "paranoid style" rhetoric (as opposed to a clinically paranoid rhetoric) persistently creeps into American political discourse. Its users, while not necessarily "certifiable lunatics" in most cases, have tended to speak with "heated exaggeration, suspiciousness, and conspiratorial fantasy" to describe the world around them. Like true paranoiacs, persons who employ the paranoid style in their political discourse are subject to delusions of persecution and exalted visions of their own greatness. But a "vital difference" exists between the clinical paranoiac and the political variety: "The clinical paranoiac sees the hostile and conspiratorial world in which he feels himself to be living as directed specifically against him; whereas the spokesman of the paranoid style finds it directed against a nation, a culture, a way of life whose fate affects not only himself alone but millions of others."5

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feldberg, Michael. *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict*. Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict* (Greenwood Press, 1975), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.72

The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America

Michael Feldberg

SELECTION	THE TURBULENT ERA
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 94–95 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

Sociological and Anthropological Theories

Part of the nation's unique past stems from its ethnic and racial heterogeneity. More than a hundred nationalities and all of the world's races live, in varying degrees of harmony, in the United States. Soci¬ ologists and anthropologists have developed two basic views of the impact that ethnocultural heterogeneity has had on American society. The somewhat older view, whose roots can be traced back as far as the eighteenth century, assumed that the ethnic, racial, and cultural groups constituting American society would become increasingly homogen¬ ized over time, and that a new race, homo Americanus, would emerge from the social "melting pot." This new race would be a combination of old and new, encompassing traditional Old World cultures and home¬ grown New World culture. Recently, however, social scientists have grown pessimistic about the power of the American melting pot. Ethnic, racial, and religious differences, observers note, continue to fragment American society, setting group against group in the struggle for autonomy, power, and political or economic advantage.

The current resurgence of racial pride and ethnic politics, and the violent resistance of neighborhoods to school and housing integration, point to the con¬ tinued vitality—and persistent disruptiveness—of cultural conflict in American society. The history of American violence tends to support the view that the melting pot has not done its job. The majority of all collective violence in American history, and the overwhelming preponderance of it in the Jacksonian era, was composed of racial, ethnic, and religious rioting. Only in the twentieth century has labor and economic or political protest rioting come close to approaching the volume or intensity of racial and ethnic violence. Americans seem, now as in the Jacksonian era, to have difficulties finding ways to live peaceably with people of other races, colors, religions, or nationalities. But again, a word of caution before we label ethnic and racial distinctions a source or a cause of violence in Jacksonian society. Bio¬ logical, cultural, and nationality differences can and have been a source The Sources of Violence in Jacksonian America 9S of social conflict, both in the United States and in other nations around the world.

Brazil, for example, is a multiracial society of blacks, whites, and browns that has evolved a social ranking system based on color, with lighter skins generally more highly valued than dark skins. Yet Brazilian society in the twentieth century seems to have produced little collective violence that can be attributed to racial conflict. Simi¬ larly, the Soviet Union is a federation of more than a hundred nation¬ ality groups and cultures, with Great Russians at the top of the Soviet hierarchy and Asiatics at the bottom. The Soviet government has stirred resistance among minorities when it has attempted to replace their languages or religious practices. But, to the best of our knowl¬ edge, this cultural conflict has not led to widespread outbreaks of collective or ethnic violence. If ethnic or racial conflict has produced violence in American his¬ tory, it is not because such conflict is inherently violent. Other con¬ ditions must transform that conflict into violence. To understand why ethnic or racial conflict in the Jacksonian years become violent, we must look to specific conditions surrounding the events that trans¬ formed conflicts from bad feelings to physical actions.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feldberg, Michael. *The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Michael Feldberg, *The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America* (Oxford University Press, 1980), 94–95.

Shortened citation:

Feldberg, *The Turbulent Era*, 94–95.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.73

Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834

Nancy Lusignan Schultz

SELECTION	THE VINE UPROOTED
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 165–166 · Supplied edition: Free Press, 2000.

Excerpt

in danger and encouraged ner to cooperate with the selectmen on Monday and to allow them to meet with Elizabeth Harrison. To repay Mr. Poor's kind concern, Moffatt herself, in the months following the convent's destruction, would embroider a linen cap for his infant son which remained in the Poor family for generations." While the bishop and Samuel Poor were visiting the convent on Sunday, the Reverend Lyman Beecher was in Boston on tour, preaching that day at three different churches. Beecher had been involved in the debates with Bishop Fenwick and Father O'Flaherty in Boston during 1831. He had since moved out to Cincinnati, and begun his ministry in the expanding westward frontier. In August 1834 he returned to Boston, seeking support of his Western enterprises.

On the day before the riot, Lyman Beecher gave three anti-Catholic sermons, on Bowdoin Street in the morning, in the Old South in the afternoon, and in Park Street in the evening, each speech lasting roughly an hour.*! In these speeches, Dr. Beecher focused on drumming up support for his school, the Lane Seminary, giving several reasons why this was crucial. The first reason was to train educated preachers for the West. The second, he asserted, was that financial support must come from New England to spread the concept of New England learning. Interestingly, in this section of the speech, he called for religious freedom, and for an end to persecution, at least of Protestant sects. In grand rhetorical style, he saved his strongest reason for last: "that the Roman Catholics of Europe seem to be seeking an asylum from the contentions and revolutions of the old world and a site for the palace of the Pope and the Romish Church in the Great Valley of the Mississippi?' Beecher later issued this speech as a monograph called A Plea for the West.

The most vivid impression that audiences took away from these sermons were the anti-Catholic themes. One who was in the audience was Anna Loring, who gave the following account of Beecher's inflammatory sermon: Dr. Beecher has at last arrived, and preached last Sunday morning at Mr Winslows—his sermon was upon the condition & prospects of the West, & the influence the Lane Seminary would have upon that section of our country—I think he has laid himself open to be ridicule by those opposed Dy Ue 1dear [sity Wildl that institution could do with he [sic] at the head of it—He gave a very interesting account of the soil, climate &c, and the state of the population many facts most appaling of the Roman Catholicks of its influence & its rapid spreading—that they were establishing schools & nunnerys, for the purpose of educating our children..."

In his sermons against Catholicism, Beecher declared that "the principles of this corrupt church are adverse to our free institutions, from the contempt and hostility which they feel towards all Protestants.... Roman Catholic Europe is pouring her population into the Valley in great abundance; and... that if the subjects of the Pope increased beyond the increase of our own people, in the proportion which they had in the last ten years they would in thirty years more, out number our native inhabitants.... Despotic princes in Europe would empty their coffers of treasure liberally, could they by means of the Romish church, subvert our free institutions and bring into disgrace all ideas of an effective government." He especially warned against "gratuitous schools" established by the Catholics for the education of Protestant children— *while the children of the subjects of the Pope were left to roam in ignorance, many of them incapable of either reading or writing. Hence the necessity that Protestants should be on the alert in the work of early education."

After the convent burning, the Protestant newspaper The Christian Examiner published this veiled indictment of Lyman Beecher, referring to him as a "pest": We doubt not that religious fanaticism, in its lowest and most

brutalizing form, had some influence in producing the wickedness which has been perpetrated in Charlestown. It was excited in part by gross calumnies, which had been proved to be unfounded before the deed was committed, and in part perhaps by the writing and preaching of some one or more of those pests of our community, who seem to have little other notion of religion, than it is a subject about which men's passions may be inflamed, and they may be made to hate each other.'

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schultz, Nancy Lusignan. *Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834*. New York: Free Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

Nancy Lusignan Schultz, *Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834* (Free Press, 2000), 165–166.

Shortened citation:

Schultz, *Fire & Roses*, 165–166.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.74

The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism

Ray Allen Billington

SELECTION	The Flames Spread
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 117–118 · Supplied edition: Rinehart, 1938.

Excerpt

Howard and had stayed in a boarding house with a man, even seeking em ployment as a domestic at a Catholic Asylum. Sleigh, A n Exposure of Maria M onk's Pretended Abduction, 19-28. Sleigh expressed his opinion as a physi cian that she was mentally unfit to be at large and should be confined. Ibid., 36. Maria Monk charged in return that Sleigh had been friendly toward her as long as she remained with him, but that he had been disappointed when she left with Hogan. He had then, she said, determined to make some money from the episode by attacking her, as he could not make it by exploiting her. American Protestant Vindicator, September 13, 1837.

143 New York, 1837. 144 Monk, Further Disclosures, 144-174. 143 Sleigh, Exposure of Maria M onk's Pretended Abduction, 32. 140 New York Observer, October 6, 1838; N iles' Register, LV (1838). Saint Frances Patrick gave birth to an illegitimate child at about the same time. New York Observer, October 6, 1838.

147 Statement of Brownlee quoted in New York Observer, November 3, 1838. In 1841, when accused of writing Maria Monk's book for her, Dr. Brownlee steadfastly maintained that the story had been dictated by Maria Monk to a Protestant clergyman just as it had appeared. American P rot estant Vindicator, April 28, 1841. He insisted too that Saint Frances Patrick was a Jesuit in disguise, sent by the convent priests to discredit Maria Monk. Ibid., May 17, 1837, June 9, 1841. Yet when the rumor spread that a third mm had escaped from the Hôtel Dieu convent, Brownlee expressed the hope that she would write her memoirs. Ibid., September 30, 1840.

148 According to the statement, published thirty years later, of a woman who claimed to be Maria Monk's daughter. Mrs. L. St. John Eckel, Maria M onk's Daughter; an Autobiography (New York, 1874), 1-15. The daughter tells of her own conversion to Catholicism and most of the book is devoted to a vigorous defense of the Catholic faith.

149 New York Herald, quoted in Boston Pilot, August 4, 1849, September 8, 1849. 15° a typical post-Civil War edition was: Maria Monk, The M ysteries of a Convent and the A w ful Disclosures of Maria M onk (------, 1874). The liter ature on Maria Monk is fairly large, but all of it is either of a popular nature or admittedly prejudiced; hence none of the authors who have dealt with her career have attempted a critical appraisal of contemporary materials. Most of the accounts have been based on Shea, H istory of the Catholic Church, III, 209—212, which is not only prejudiced but inaccurate. Typical is "The Truth about Maria Monk," Catholic Truth Society Publications, XIX (London,

1894). Equally prejudiced on the anti-Catholic side is Thomas E. Watson, "The Truth About Maria Monk," W atson's Magasine (May, 1916), 3-26. This attempts to prove that Maria Monk's statements were correct and even presents affidavits from two old men who knew Maria Monk's family and who had seen the secret passages beneath the Hôtel Dieu Convent. Ibid., 21-23. The best popular account of her life is in Richardson Wright, Forgotten Ladies (Philadelphia, 1928), 121-155. See also R. A. Billington, "Maria Monk and her Influence," Catholic Historical Review, XXII (October, 1936), 283- 296. and Ralph Thompson, "The Maria Monk Affair," the Colophon, Part 17 Saving the West from the Pope

NTIL the middle of the 1830*5 American nativism was directed almost entirely against Catholicism. This had been, and remained, its fundamental appeal, yet so long as the leaders of the movement in the United States confined their en ergies solely to this one channel, they could not hope to win universal support. Many people were indifferent to the No- Popery agitation or actually hostile toward the type of propa ganda being sponsored by the Protestant Reformation Society. Among these were laborers and working men, who, normally hostile toward immigrant

competition, might be induced to em brace the nativistic cause if their latent prejudice against for eigners could be aroused. Only when this considerable group had joined with those who felt an equal grievance against Catholi cism could nativism hope to secure any of its objectives through political action.

An effective propaganda which developed in the latter part of the ißßo's not only aroused Americans against immigrants but also demonstrated to their satisfaction that an alliance existed between these foreigners and the Catholic church to bring about the destruction of the United States. Thus the two phases of nativistic activity were united and were from that time in separable.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Billington, Ray Allen. *The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism*. New York: Macmillan, 1938.

Footnote citation:

Ray Allen Billington, *The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism* (Rinehart, 1938), 117–118.

Shortened citation:

Billington, *The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860*, 117–118.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.75

Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s

Tyler Anbinder

SELECTION	The Ideology of the Know Nothing Party
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 115–116 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Although the pope seemed a distant threat to many Americans, Know Nothings insisted that Catholic priests carried out the pontiff's subversive schemes in America. "It is the constant plotting of these Jesuitical craftsmen that we resist," argued nativists, especially "their endeavors to unite Church and State, and render both subservient to the nod of the Pope." Know Nothings believed that Catholics could never disobey their priests, because the priest might then reveal secrets divulged in the confessional or withhold absolution. This gave priests extraordinary power, which they used to enforce conformity amongst the laity. Furthermore, most American priests had been born abroad and had never taken oaths of citizenship. This reinforced the notion that their loyalties lay ultimately with Rome and convinced many natives that the power of priests ought to be curtailed. Following a traditional theme of anti-Catholicism, Know Nothings also accused priests of sexual licentiousness. Richard Hofstadter noted that "anti-Catholicism has always been the pornography of the Puritan," and the popularity of Maria Monk's convent "revelations" demonstrates that the Protestant obsession with sexual impropriety by the priesthood preceded the Know Nothings by many years.

The notion that convents provided the setting for illicit sex was so prevalent that customers commonly referred to nineteenthcentury brothels as "nunneries."? While Know Nothing journals did not describe convent life in the sordid detail provided in convent exposés, their language left no doubt as to what they imagined went on within their walls. "Convents are the very hot-beds of lust and debauchery," reported one Know Nothing journal, while another described how they were "impregnated with vice and crime." Priests in convents exercised the most "shocking licentiousness and most unmitigated despotism over the hearts, minds, and persons of the nuns." Know Nothings asserted that the priests' authority allowed them to cover up their convent indiscretions by condemning their victims to a life of cloistered silence." cans are battling in Catholicism is not the religion of Jesus,... buta political Roman Jesuitism, whose aim is, and ever has been, to grasp temporal with spiritual power...." Know Nothings opposed Catholicism "as a political institution" and promised not to interfere with Catholic religious practices. They sought instead "to destroy their political influence."""

Catholics insisted that they sought no greater influence over American politics than any other religious group. But Know Nothings responded that "the systematic interference of the Church of Rome, as an ecclesiastical organization,... in the political controversies of this republic" set Catholicism apart from any other sect. Know Nothings asserted that ever since the time of Constantine, there had been "a political stripe along the whole length of Romanism." While Protestant ministers confined their activities to spiritual matters, Know Nothings found that "the Roman Hierarchy is the most gigantic political association on earth.... Its purpose [is] the government of mankind."8

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Anbinder, Tyler. *Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Tyler Anbinder, *Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s* (Oxford University Press, 1992), 115–116.

Shortened citation:

Anbinder, *Nativism and Slavery*, 115–116.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.76

Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850

Bruce Laurie

SELECTION	The Sources of Industrial Diversity
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 29–30 · Supplied edition: Temple University Press, 1980.

Excerpt

The decade and a half following the panic witnessed the continued putting-out system. The protracted depression expedited this process, ~and no one realized this more than small businessmen. A former garret boss who lost his shop in hard times counted two thousand for large [manujfactories."^^ Such a winnowing out of small producers without completely destroying either or both in many trades. In 850, select groups of craftsmen still earned their living working for small

The continiiity in industrial development contrasts sharply with forties. Two waves of immigrants from western Europe at the ijieginning and end of the decade inflated the proportion of foreignyborn Philadelphians from [10] to nearly 40 percent of the male labor force. Two-thirds of these newcomers were Irish peasants in flight from the horrors of the Great Famine. About four in ten of them worked.as hod carriers, carters, stevedores, draymen, and casual laborers. Another 40 percent can be identified as skilled workers, but most of theni were involved in hand loom weaving and in bastardized segments of the sweated trades. Germans accounted for another 20 percent of the foreign-born, but they hardly fit the stereotype of the unskilled immigrant. Having come from small towns with artisan economies, they were the most skilled immigrants ever to enter America, and used this background to good advantage in Philadelphia. Fully two-thirds of them assumed skilled jobs, and while shoemaking, tailoring, furniture making, and butchering had special appeal, they worked at every craft. The occupational profile of the native-born whites, who fell from about 90 to less than sixty percent of the male manual labor force during the decade, closely mirrored the trades. They were largely displaced by women and immigrants in casual labor during the forties. At the close of the decade native whites were dominant only in the more prestigious crafts of printing,

The combination of this demographic shift and ongoing industrial change redistributed Philadelphia's wage earners within work settings. Most workers of all national origins and backgrounds were found in the modern (factories) and the modernizing (manufactories and sweatshops) workplaces as the forties drew to a close. The only substantial groups of native white and German males who staffed the small shops, and women of all nationahties who continued to work under the putting-out system. Seen from this perspective, industrializing Philadelphia is a explored below. For the moment we turn our attention to uneven development as a component in the forging of working-class of 1837.

Author's Notes

10. Bruce Laurie, "The Working People of Philadelphia, 1827-1853" (Ph.D. diss.. University of Pittsburgh, 1971), app. A.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Temple University Press, 1980), 29–30.

Shortened citation:

Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*, 29–30.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.77

The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War

Bruce Levine

SELECTION	grants and Industry in America
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 65–66 · Supplied edition: University of Illinois Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The blossoming of entrepreneurial opportunity in the 1840s and 1850s was made possible in large part by the huge immigration of impoverished European working people. Their arrival finally began to ease the notorious dearth of wage laborers in the North—-and con¬ sequently the high price of labor and workers' intractability. The New York Association for Improving the Condition of the Poor declared that "the Germans constitute the best portion of our immigrant pop¬ ulation," noting, inter alia, that Germans "can work for less wages than Americans, and live where an Irishman would starve." Similarly, the New York Daily Times found Germans "industrious, sober, and economical, and above all, fitted to do the cheap and ingenious [i.e., skilled] labor of the country," adding that "the Germans will live as cheaply and work infinitely more intelligently than the negro." In the West, the Chicago Daily Tribune—which was "without any strong predilections in favor of foreigners of any kind"—nonetheless re¬ peated the New York Times' favorable appraisal of German craftworkers nearly verbatim. Indeed, the availability of so much skilled but low-wage labor roused in the boosterish Chicago editor "a much more cordial feeling toward our German population than to any other class of citizens who are not 'native and to the manor born.' "27

Initially tempering such praise was concern about the immigrants' accustomed work pace. Nineteenth-century European visitors unfail¬ ingly noted the greater speed with which labor was performed in America; German tourists were no exception. "'Always in haste!' is the motto of these active, restless people," the middle-class liberal traveler Moritz Busch wrote approvingly in the early 1850s. The Americans he encountered "live fast.... They sing fast.... They love to make money fast—for that is the intention with which anyone here who has the stuff devotes himself to business. They do every¬ thing fast, so why shouldn't they work A the same rate?"28

Not all immigrants adapted easily to this pace. The New York Daily Tribune noted of German craftworkers that upon "arriving on our shores they do not drive business, as is a distinguishing characteristic of our native mechanics." But most newcomers did adjust. The more entrepreneurial-minded made the transition willingly, even enthusi¬ astically, speeding their labors the more quickly to ascend the ladder of success. Recalcitrants required prodding—as by the fact that in¬ comes were based on very low piece rates. Work pace, working hours, and material living standards thus became variables in a single equa¬ tion; immigrant craftworkers learned the hard way that the price of even subsistence living was unprecedentedly intense and protracted effort. "After they have been some time among us," the New York Daily Tribune thus observed with satisfaction, "a decided improve¬ ment in this respect can be plainly observed," adding that "there is not perhaps a more industrious working class in our city than the Germans," who "rise early and retire late." Moritz Busch encountered and applauded the same accommodation in die Midwest, as a result of which "even a German boot artist moves awl and hammer at least twice as quickly" as he did in Germany. "The 'mason's tinder' that costs our workers so much time in the lighting of pipes," he cracked, "doesn't grow on American soil, and just as little thrive here the co¬ ziness and deliberateness with which they apply themselves in Ger¬ many to every miserable repair job."29

The satisfaction expressed in these quarters was not universally shared. Native-born youth fled low-paid and hard-driven jobs in search of higher incomes and more congenial conditions. Immigrant craftwork¬ ers with fewer alternatives often found their life in the United States considerably harder than expected. Like German-born journeyman coppersmith Nikolaus Schwenck, they discovered that "in all branches of business" in the New World "everything has to work under high steam." "He who has not from his youth up been performing con¬ tinuously the

most severe labor," Gottfried Menzel cautioned, "so much more will he lack, in America… the necessary strength and ability," since there "labor is much more severe and much more work is re¬ quired for the higher wages he receives than is usual in Germany."30

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Levine, Bruce. *The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Bruce Levine, *The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War* (University of Illinois Press, 1992), 65–66.

Shortened citation:

Levine, *The Spirit of 1848*, 65–66.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.78

The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement

John R. Mulkern

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: Northeastern University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

As soon as they disembarked, Irish immigrants stacked up in Boston or sought employment in the cities and growing mill towns in the Merrimack, Blackstone, and Connecticut valleys, where they "pigged" into ghetto tenements, shanties, and "Paddy Camplands." Slum conditions and poverty made more difficult the transition that the newcomers had to make in their adopted country and led to the usual social aberrations of the uprooted and maladjusted. Approximately half the inmates in the state asylums, poorhouses, and prisons were foreigners. Most of the new arrivals, however, were self-supporting, taking whatever work was available. Generally, this meant domestic work or mill jobs for the women and unskilled, manual labor for the men. Paddy labor came cheap; Irish construction gangs, for example, built the railroads at 60 cents a day per man. They also dug the canals, laid the roads, and in the main provided the muscle for the kinds of dangerous, low-paying jobs that most American workers shunned.?¢

Textile manufacturers, in particular, welcomed the new arrivals as an endless source of cheap, tractable labor. By the early 1850s, half the workers in the mills of Lowell, Fall River, and Holyoke were foreigners, and by the end of the decade, half the textile work force in southern New England was Irish. As the Irish poured in, Yankee workers left in droves, their decision triggered not so much by an inability or unwillingness to compete for place—the native-born continued to monopolize the better jobs—as by the deteriorating conditions. The flood of foreign workers accelerated the erosion of working conditions, and management's use of them as scabs no doubt stirred resentment; but in general, only the relatively few unskilled Yankee laborers and domestics had to compete directly with the newcomers for jobs. Other major industries, like boots and shoes and shipbuilding, employed few foreign workers. Lacking skills and connections in the building and maritime trades, the Irish remained mired at the bottom of the occupational strata at the close of the antebellum era.[27]

Author's Notes

27. Persons, "Factory Legislation," 56—58; C. Ware, Cotton Manufactures, 3, 11, 230-32; Green, Holyoke, 30-31; N. Ware, Industrial Worker, 117, 149-53; Eno, Cotton Was King, 94, 110-23; Siracusa, Mechanical People, 169, 174—75; Taylor, Transportation Revolution, 282-87, 292-300; Barnstable Patriot, March 27, 1855; O. Handlin, Boston's Immigrants, 64, 70, 83, 253; Faler, "Cultural Aspects," 374; Bean, "Party Transformation in Massachusetts," 209.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Mulkern, John R. *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement*. Boston: Northeastern University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

John R. Mulkern, *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement* (Northeastern University Press, 1990), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

Mulkern, *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.79

Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America

Kerby A. Miller

SELECTION	The Post-Famine Emigrants in America, 1870-1921
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 503–504 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

the strife-ridden 1890s Irish Catholics such as Michael Kilcran lost jobs or promotions through nativist prejudice, and another emigrant lamented, "If a man to-day in America... doesn't belong to a secret order of society, such as the Odd Fellows [or] the Masons... he can get nothing." Although in retrospect it appears that the flood of "new immigrants" in 1880- 1924 elevated Irish- Americans' status, its effects seemed entirely negative to Irishmen such as Michael Kearney, James Chamberlain, and Patrick Mc- Keown, who complained in 1904 that his trade of street paving was now monopolized by Italians and Slavs who "work cheaper & are more submissive than the English-speaking working man." Union cards provided some protection to skilled Irish-Americans, but even their gains were constantly under assault as employers sought to reduce costs through wage cuts, mechanization, speedups, fraudulent measures for piecework, and unionbusting tactics such as blacklists, scab labor, court injunctions, and outright intimidation by company thugs, Pinkerton detectives, or state and federal troops. Willingly or reluctantly, Irish employers and what Frank Roney called "lick-spittle" foremen often helped exploit their own countrymen: ihus, despite his conviction that "to deprive the laborer of his wages" was the "one sin which cries to the Holy Ghost for vengeance," fear of losing his own job forced the young David Lawlor to help cheat his fellow mill workers in Fall River. Although Irish-American leaders of American Federation of Labor-affiliated craft unions generally deserved their conservative reputations, the sheer magnitude of labor unrest in late-nineteenth- and early-twentieth-century America (in 1880-1905 the building trades alone engaged in over 9,500 strikes) indicated how tenuous was the status of Irish-America's blue-collar elite. Defensive exigencies, if not working-class solidarity, propelled Irish-Americans to the forefront of most major business-labor confrontations during the period, from the "great upheaval" of 1877 to the national steel strike of 1919, which launched William Z. Foster, slum-bred son of Carlow emigrants, on his career in America's Communist party. Significantly, workers lost most of these dramatic battles, and the persistent gap between poverty and plutocracy convinced many Irishmen that "Ireland and America is much all a like....

ther is People to be los[t] in both Places and ther is anuff be hind."195 Those Irish-Americans who remained in unskilled occupations suffered the greatest hardships and exploitation. In 1880, unskilled workers still constituted about half of all Irish-American males and perhaps a third of Irish emigrants' sons, and during the 1880s the proportion of unskilled probably remained fairly stable as a renewed flood of peasants and laborers from southern and western Ireland offset progress and attrition among the earlier arrivals and their children. Even in 1900 one-seventh of all Irish-American males and a fourth of those born in Ireland remained unskilled workers, as did about two-thirds of all Irish-born working women. "1 Dolard a week": "I am not capble of as earning big wages [sic] like other girls who can cook and [do] the large washings and fine ironings," she explained, for "I was not brought [up] to anny such thing [but]... was sent away from my Mother when young to the farmers to work out in the fields and I never got much in sight about house keeping or to be handy to sew...."

Although they were rarely so pathetic as Mary Malone, a high proportion of post-Famine emigrants— landless laborers and small farmers' children— had nothing but brawn to market abroad. Moreover, although post-Famine emigrants' literacy rates were significantly higher than in previous periods, in terms of social experience and cultural background many were no better prepared than their predecessors for an increasingly complex urban-industrial society which demanded work patterns and outlooks antithetical to those prevailing in Connaught and west Munster: most west Kerrymen "had no business in America," testified one returned emigrant, for "[t]hey had no experience at

keeping watch on a clock or at the kind of work that was there, and consequently a lot of them came home again." In addition, despite Ireland's expanding educational facilities, a significant minority of post-Famine emigrants remained functionally illiterate; as late as 1910 a fifth of the Irish in north Philadelphia's Schuylkill district, most of them Irish-speakers, could neither read nor write.

Lacking skills and sophistication, usually without even the frail protection which unions afforded craft workers, unskilled Irish-Americans were easily exploited in factories, mines, and domestic service, sharing travails similar to those of the "new immigrants" from southern and eastern Europe. Wages for unskilled workers remained abysmally low. In 1880 an Irishman in Philadelphia needed about $650 per year to support a family of five at subsistence level; however, half that city's Irish- Americans earned less, making up the difference through the earnings of working wives and children, by taking in boarders, or through systematic self-privation. Despite such strategies, about a third of Philadelphia's Irish endured chronic poverty: after thirty years of paving streets and digging ditches, emigrants such as Patrick McKeown were unable to save even the $9 cost of a passage ticket home; many others who did return were like Tomas 6 Crohan's brother, who came home a broken man, without "a red farthing in his pocket... [t]hough he had not had a day out of work all those long years."

In the early twentieth century between a fourth and a fifth of male Irish-Americans still earned less than family-subsistence wages. Poverty bred impermanence: although most unskilled Irish women were rooted to particular locales as servants or textile workers, unmarried men without skills drifted about searching for work as harvesters, miners, or factory hands. Between 1880 and 1890 some 50 percent of Boston's predominantly Irish low manual workers left town; between 1910 and 1920 the comparable figure was 66 percent. In 1902 Eoin Ua Cathail reported from

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Miller, Kerby A. *Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1985.

Footnote citation:

Kerby A. Miller, *Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America* (Oxford University Press, 1985), 503–504.

Shortened citation:

Miller, *Emigrants and Exiles*, 503–504.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.80

The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict

Michael Feldberg

SELECTION	THE NATIVISTS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 47–48 · Supplied edition: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Excerpt

Montgomery and Laurie see the nativism of the 1840s as merely one of the native skilled artisan's responses to his own victimization. Hand craftsmen were the group most displaced by the technological innovations of the 1820s and 1830s, which introduced mass production and inexpen¬ sive machine-made manufactures to American industry. The artisans were also severely stung by the depression that began in 1837 and lasted in Philadelphia well into the mid-1840s. Before the depression, Philadelphia's working people had resisted the inroads made elsewhere by power-driven machinery and shoddy production methods by retaining their network of strong craft unions and by organizing a highly effective city wide General Trades' Union (GTU). In the years of its greatest power, the GTU, a cen¬ tral council of the city's craft unions, financed and organized several hundred successful strikes for higher wages, shorter hours, job protection, and the maintenance of quality standards. Even more significantly, the GTU embraced workers from every skill level and every ethnic background (except the blacks) in Philadelphia. The demand for labor in the affluent

1830s coupled with the workingmen's hostility to any industrial arrange¬ ments not of their own choosing—be that excessive hours or excessive mechanization—welded various elements of the Philadelphia working classes into a single, self-conscious working class. This unity developed despite the ethnic and religious differences between native and immigrant workmen, and despite the traditional disdain that Philadelphia's "superior" artisans felt for lesser-skilled male and female workers. In Laurie's words, "The Union's most outstanding quality was class solidarity," and nativism had no place in such an organization.6

The remarkable Philadelphia working-class unity of the early 1830s was most clearly demonstrated by the 1835 general strike for the ten-hour day. The refusal of Irish day laborers to unload boats on the Schuylkill river wharves precipitated a general uprising of the city's working people against the excessive number of hours they were compelled to toil. When the unorganized, unskilled immigrant Irish "stood out" for shorter hours at equal wages, the highly skilled unionized native craftsmen of the city rallied to their support, much to the surprise of experienced observers of the Philadelphia labor scene. The GTU contributed money to the strikers' support, organized rallies and marches to demonstrate solidarity, and eventually declared a general strike in sympathy with the dockworkers' demands. Even the cordwainers, who a decade later were to prove them¬ selves implacable foes of the Irish, declared on June 3, 1835, "We are all day laborers," and vowed to work no more than ten hours per day. Rein¬ forced by sympathetic allies in the middle class, particularly shopkeepers and politicians, the dockworkers won their point by the end of June. Soon afterwards, the city councils announced that all municipal employees would also work no more than a ten-hour day. By the fall, ten hours com¬ prised the standard work day for a majority of Philadelphia's working people. Guided by the solidary leadership of the General Trades' Union, the strikers succeeded, Laurie concluded, because "occupational divisions and ethnic prejudice melted."17

With the onset of a depression in the late 1830s, however, high wages and job security evaporated for Philadelphia's skilled artisans. The de¬ pression meant fewer jobs and more hands to fill them. Wages soon dropped, yet many workers, both native-born and immigrant, gladly ac¬ cepted them. Bereft of funds, the union collapsed. Workingmen found themselves with little if any ability to protect their wages, the ten-hour day, or any other conditions of their labor. Economically disabled, search¬ ing for a means to protect their wages and their jobs, hoping to stem the influx of yet more hands into an overcrowded labor market, skilled, nativeborn craftsmen turned to both evangelical

Protestant religion and anti¬ immigrant politics to make their stand against personal oblivion. In Montgomery's words:

It was precisely by making strikes futile, destroying the Trades' Union beyond even hope of resurrection, and stimulating [a] new emphasis on self-improvement that the depression opened the way for the rise of nativism among the artisans. By magnifying the importance to artisans of the temperance and public education movements, these developments set their aspirations on a collision course with those of the Catholic immigrants.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feldberg, Michael. *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict*. Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict* (Greenwood Press, 1975), 47–48.

Shortened citation:

Feldberg, *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844*, 47–48.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.81

Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834

Nancy Lusignan Schultz

SELECTION	FIRE AND ROSES
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Free Press, 2000.

Excerpt

Charlestown of 529, or 6 percent of the population, but historian Wilfred Bisson estimates that, by 1834, the population of Irish Catholics was between 1,000 and 1,500. Between 1820 and 1830, the foreign-born population had increased sixfold." Both the old elite and the day laborers felt that these newcomers undermined their social position. The laboring classes expressed their discontent in union activity, new political parties, and anti-Irish nativism, and joined the Workingmen's Party."° Of the selectmen serving in Charlestown when the convent was burned, four were members of this party. In 1833, the Bunker Hill Aurora summed up the party's philosophy:

The Workingmen comprise the middling and laboring classes of society—their task is hard enough at best; they have to contend for existence and to support their families against fearful odds, we know. They are compelled to labor and to labor hard and to labor nearly all the time to gain a respectable livelihood.?'

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schultz, Nancy Lusignan. *Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834*. New York: Free Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

Nancy Lusignan Schultz, *Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834* (Free Press, 2000), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Schultz, *Fire & Roses*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.82

How the Irish Became White

Noel Ignatiev

SELECTION	f- HOW THE IRISH BECAME WHITE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 98–99 · Supplied edition: Routledge, 1995.

Excerpt

Some modern scholars have joined Finch in pointing to labor competition as the cause of intergroup animosities within the working class, and in particular animosity between Irish- and Afro-Americans, who together made up the bulk of America's unskilled proletariat. However, there is nothing distinctively racial in what Finch recounted of the relations among black and immigrant workers. He might have been describing conflicts between Irish and Germans, or among Irish from different counties, with no assumption of racial favoritism.

While labor competition explains some things, unless its operation is specified, identifying it as the source of intergroup tensions raises more questions than it answers. In the ideal situation, workers contracting for the sale of their labor power compete as individuals, not as groups. And this is even true to some extent in the real world: no employer ever hired "the Irish" or "the Afro-Americans"; individual persons compete to fill specific openings. Under the capitalist system, all workers compete for jobs. The competition gives rise to animosity among them; but normally it also gives rise to its opposite, unity. It is not free competition that leads to enduring animosity, but its absence. Race becomes a social fact at the moment "racial" identification begins to impose barriers to free competition among atomized and otherwise interchangeable individuals. To the extent it does so, the greatest individual competition takes place not between groups but within each group. In the period under consideration the most intense and desperate labor competition was not between Irish and free Negroes, but within each of the two groups, and no one has ever suggested that it presented an insurmountable obstacle to the cohesion of either. If the experience of Cork and Longford men killing each other on the canal projects taught them that it was to their mutual advantage to come together, and ifthe rivalry among Irish and Germans eventually gave way to cooperative relations, why did the competition among Irish- and Afro-American laborers fail to lead to a mutual appreciation of the need for unity? The answer is that the competition among these two groups did not take place under normal circumstances, but was distorted by the color line, what O'Connell called something in the "atmosphere" of America.

Finch himself recognized that what was going on was more than simple labor competition. "The working people reason thus," he continued.

Competition among free white working men here is even now reducing our wages daily; but if the blacks were to be emancipated, probably hundreds of thousands of them would migrate into these northern States, and the competition for employment would consequently be so much increased, that wages would speedily be as low, or lower here, than they are in England; better, therefore, for us, that they remain slaves as they are. Hence we see why the American abolitionists of slavery are more unpopular among these parties in America, than Socialists are among the priests and upperclasses in England-hence we see why the repeal associations in Cincinnati wrote to O'Connell in defence of slavery, and why many repeal associations in the United States, particularly in the south, broke up and refused to give any more assistance to the repealers in Ireland, after receiving his denunciations of that accursed system.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ignatiev, Noel. *How the Irish Became White*. New York: Routledge, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Noel Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White* (Routledge, 1995), 98–99.

Shortened citation:

Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White*, 98–99.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.83

Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War

Eric Foner

SELECTION	The Republicans and Nativism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 243–244 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1970.

Excerpt

curred in Massachusetts, where a group of anti-slavery radicals who had refused to join the nativists in 1854 led the movement to organize a separate Republican party in 1855. Former Conscience Whig leaders Charles Francis Adams, Stephen C. Phillips, Edward L. Pierce, Samuel Gridley Howe, and Francis Bird, with encouragement from out-of-state radicals like Giddings, met soon after the Know-Nothing success of November 1854, to plan an anti-nativist strategy. Their efforts culminated in the Chapman Hall meeting of August 1855, in which the Free Soilers and a group of influential moderate Whigs agreed on the necessity for a new party based on anti-slavery principles. The Know- Nothings soon joined in the fusion movement, hoping to control it, but at the September Worcester Convention, the Republican Julius Rockwell narrowly defeated Know-Nothing Governor Henry Gardner for the party's gubernatorial nomination, and a strong anti-slavery platform was adopted.®* "The incubus of Know-Nothingism is thrown off," wrote Adams, who had played a crucial role in drafting the resolutions and in engineering Rockwell's nomination. But the Know-Nothings, unwilling to accept defeat, renominated Gardner at their own convention.

Despite the radicals' hopes, Gardner was re-elected, but the split of the nativists on the slavery issue had begun. Of the eleven Know- Nothing Congressmen elected in 1854, seven demonstrated that they put anti-slavery above nativism by supporting Rockwell.*° The political pattern in New York was strikingly similar to that of Massachusetts. Here, too, a separate Republican organization was created in 1855, only to be defeated by the nativists. Along with the Seward Whigs, the party had a sizable anti-nativist contingent in the Barnburner Democrats, who had long worked with immigrant voters, and still believed that, as Timothy Jenkins put it, "the foreigners are our natural allies."*° The Republican platform condemned secret political organizations—a direct slap at the Know-Nothings—and the party carried the radical areas of western New York and the Barnburner strongholds of the northeast. Anti-slavery nativists were obviously leaving the Know-Nothing party for the Republican, while the nativists' strength was increasingly concentrated in the conservative areas surrounding New York City.

The 1855 campaign set the basis for a successful Republican party in New York State, combining Seward Whigs and radical Democrats on an anti-slavery platform.*t As in New York, nativism reached the peak of its influence in the Northwest during 1855, but its decline was much more dramatic here, where the foreign-born population ranged from g per cent in Indiana to over 33 per cent in Wisconsin. The pivotal struggle between nativists and anti-slavery men for control of the western fusion movements took place in Ohio in 1855. As soon as the election of 1854 had been decided, anti-slavery radicals, led by Chase and Giddings, began to prepare for the next campaign, insisting that the slavery question be, as Giddings put it, "the issue and the sole issue" of 1855. Giddings and the Western Reserve radicals were averse to any cooperation with the nativists—they insisted that the Know-Nothings abandon their lodges and join the Republican organization without any concessions from the anti-slavery forces. They demanded that Chase be the Republican nominee for governor, and threatened to form an independent party if he were not selected.*?

Chase himself took a flexible stand, working for his own nomination while attempting to moderate the sometimes bitter radical attacks on the nativists. But he did insist that the Know-Nothings continue to work as one element of the Republican coalition, rather than attempting to make it "an exclusively K. N. assocation." And Chase steadfastly refused to join the secret order, despite the Know-Nothings' insistence that such a

Author's Notes

38. Charles Francis Adams Diary, December 27, 1854, January 6, 10, 13, 17, August 16, 22, 1855, Adams Papers; James M. Stone to Sumner, December 29, 1834, Sumner Papers; Howe to Sumner, January 19, 1855, Howe Papers; Richard Henry Dana, Jr. to Mrs. Arnold, October 8, 1855, Richard Henry Dana, Jr. Papers, MHS; Bean, "Party Transformation," 314-21.

39. Charles Francis Adams Diary, September 21, 1855, Adams Papers; Bean, "Party Transformation," 322—24; Boston Evening Telegraph, December 5, 1856; Martin B. Duberman, "Some Notes on the Beginnings of the Republican Party in Massachusetts," NEQ, XXXIV (September 1961), 364-70.

40. Timothy Jenkins to Hamlin, November 7, 1856, Hamlin Papers. Cf. Isaac Sherman to Nathaniel P. Banks, March 5, 1856, Nathaniel P. Banks Papers, LC; New York Evening Post, January 13, 19, 1855.

41. Ernest R. Muller, "Preston King: A Political Biography" (unpublished doctoral dissertation, Columbia University, 1957), 559-64; Scisco, Political Nativism, 153, 168; Curran, "Know-Nothings of New York," 197-98; New York Evening Post, December 18, 1855; E. Pershine Smith to Carey, November 13, 1855, Carey Papers; Francis E. Spinner to John C. Underwood, October 9, 1856, John C. Underwood Papers, LC.

42. Thomas, Nativism, 101; Giddings to Palfrey, December 30, 1854, Palfrey Papers; Eugene H. Roseboom, "Salmon P. Chase and the Know-Nothings," MVI1R, XXV (December 1938), 337-39; David H. Bradford, "The Background and Formation of the Republican Party in Ohio, 1844-1861" (unpublished doctoral dissertation, University of Chicago, 1947), i45n.; Ciddings to Salmon P. Chase, May i, 1855, Salmon P. Chase Papers, HSPa; Giddings to Julian, May 30, 1855. Giddings-Julian Papers, LC; M. H. Nichols to Salmon P. Chase, April 14, 1855, Salmon P. Chase Papers, LC.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Foner, Eric. *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1970.

Footnote citation:

Eric Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War* (Oxford University Press, 1970), 243–244.

Shortened citation:

Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men*, 243–244.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.84

The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement

John R. Mulkern

SELECTION	ark-Lantern Politics and the Know-Nothing Triumph
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 83–84 · Supplied edition: Northeastern University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

Political nativism on its own, in other words, fared poorly at the polls. The average antebellum voter may have shared some of the thinking of the hard-core bigots, but ordinarily he did not vote with them. Even when he did so in 1854, he had his own priorities. For example, nativism had little bearing on the Free-Soil decision to vote Know-Nothing in 1854 and none at all on the Free-Soil American conversion to Republicanism the following year. In the context of their overriding interest—to check the spread of slavery—nativism was of peripheral concern. Similarly, the Democratic party, plagued by the mass defection of its rank and file to "Sam" in 1854, polled a dismal 11 percent of the statewide total; but one year later, the Democratic vote had bounced back up to 26 percent of the total, which, given the interplay between the rigor of the American party's persecution of the Irish Catholic minority and the Democratic party's insistence on equal political and civil rights for immigrants and Roman Catholics, would be a study in inconsistency if nativism were the prime cause for their 1854 hiatus.

The same may be said for the assertion that Democratic Coalitionists converted en masse to Know- Nothingism because of the defeat of the constitution, given the fact that the Know- Nothings implemented the Coalition's program. Like most voters, the Democrats had reasons other than bigotry or a desire to revive the Coalition for turning against the established parties and professional politicians. The Know-Nothing call to take part in the formation of a people's party and to use that party to address some of the more pressing problems affecting their daily lives struck a responsive chord with rank-and-file Democrats. After one: year of Know-Nothing rule, however, most Democrats had returned to their own party, their populist enthusiasm for the order having been extinguished by the ability of cunning politicans like Governor Gardner, Congressman Banks, and Senator Wilson to manipulate it to their own ends.®4 Ironically, only the Whig party—the party that had dominated state politics for over twenty years—vanished completely beneath the ruins of the second party system.

Expanding industries and demographic changes and their by-products— social fragmentation and ethnic and class divisions—had rendered Brahmin Whiggery, with its preachments on harmony and its politics of consensus, an anachronism. Whiggery's last-minute conversion to reform in 1853 was a case of too little, too late. The party had become the focal point of the people's resentment of political institutions because of its elitest posture on matters of governance and policy and because of its practice of status-quo politics in an age of unprecedented change. Ethnocultural historians like Ronald Formisano, William Gienapp, and Michael Holt attribute the disintegration of the Whig party and the rapid rise of Know- Nothingism mainly to the intensification of nativist and anti-Catholic sentiments brought on by the massive influx of foreigners into the country in the 1840s and} 1850s. But as Holt points out, these sentiments were the by-products of a still greater force, namely, the rapid social and economic changes that were transforming the country in these years.®> Massachusetts, as the nation's most densely affected. Social and economic dislocations on a scale exceeding those in other states exerted intense pressures for a political response.

That was an imperative that the Whig-dominated second party system had to address if it were to survive. Its failure to do so doomed it. Rank-and-file Whigs, no less than their Democratic counterparts, were drawn to Know-Nothingism as an alternative to a failed party system and by its promise of a positive government response to their needs. There was no compelling reason following "Sam's" accession to power for ordinary Whigs to support the efforts of the displaced Brahmins to resurrect a party that instead of using the state to soften the impact of modernization had wedded political power to entrenched economic interests. Gardner's landslide showing in towns

most subject to the pressures of industrialization, urban growth, poverty, and population flux underscores the dominant influence of these forces in the populist revolt against the older parties.

Close to 70 percent of their voters had cast ballots for a gubernatorial candidate who was virtually unknown outside of Boston and for a party running in its first statewide election whose only announced intention, other than the promise of some kind of political pogrom aimed at the Irish, was its vow to seize control of the state from the corrupt old parties and turn it over to the native-born citizenry. Voters from all the parties and from all parts of the state answered the call, in itself a reflection of the depth of public disillusionment with the established political order. But it was in the urban and industrial towns and working-class neighborhoods of the cities, where the populist revolt against the political establishment began, where political antislaveryism, prohibition, and nativism never commanded majorities, and where the 1853 constitution was buried under an avalanche of no votes, that support for "Sam" reached its peak.

Standard explanations for the collapse of the second party system fail to account for this explosion of Know-Nothingism in urban Massachusetts, because considerations other than the sectional crisis, the defeat of the constitution, the politicization of ethnoreligious animosities, or even a general mix of these concerns also factored into the voting decision of urban Bay Staters. It was not the anticity Coalitionists, Maine Law men, Native Americans, Free-Soilers, and fresh converts to the antislavery cause who lifted the Know-Nothing majorities in these communities to such lofty heights, though all of these elements did, in fact, gather under the Know-Nothing umbrella. Even combined, they were few in number compared to their unreconstructed Whig and Democratic neighbors, who for years had remained impervious to the political appeals of the monocausalists. That so many urban Whigs and Democrats should have suddenly abandoned their parties in 1854 in favor of "Sam," then, cannot realistically be explained in terms of an overnight conversion to political nativism or antislaveryism.®° Ronald Formisano describes nativism and anti-Catholicism as nominally the lowest common denominator of Know-Nothingism. All Know-Nothings understood

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Mulkern, John R. *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement*. Boston: Northeastern University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

John R. Mulkern, *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement* (Northeastern University Press, 1990), 83–84.

Shortened citation:

Mulkern, *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts*, 83–84.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.85

The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War

Michael F. Holt

SELECTION	Harrison and Prosperity or Van Buren and Ruin''
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 94–95 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

The grounds for Clay's bravado in the spring of 1838, while seemingly firm enough, turned out to be very slippery. So long as the economy slumped and Whig fortunes rose, the stronger Clay looked, since his spirited Senate resistance to Van Buren's Independent Treasury scheme caused his stock to soar in commercial communities. The obverse of this formula was equally true, however. When the economy and the Democrats rebounded in 1838–39, Clay ceased to look like a winner.

Whatever the economic conditions, Clay retained an asset that could not be matched by either Harrison or Webster—southern support. As in 1836, southern Whigs wanted one of their own in the White House. Since Tennessee Senator Hugh Lawson White showed no inclination to run again, the slaveholder Clay appeared the potential heir. Webster's strident opposition to the acquisition of Texas accelerated southern Whigs' movement in Clay's direction. A Whig editor in North Carolina exclaimed that "Mr. Clay is the only one under [the] circumstances that the Whigs can expect to run with success.... Mr. Webster can never get the full Whig vote of the South. His late declarations concerning Texas (right enough perhaps in the abstract) will of themselves like Banquos [sic] ghost stare him in the face and shake their gory or rather sable locks at him throughout the contest."[11]

Yet even Clay's popularity in the South proved a two-edged sword, for his southern support was rather shaky and, in attempting to shore it up, he ran the risk of alienating northern Whigs. Alone among the candidates he had to balance the conflicting interests of northern and southern Whigs. Because of his prominence as Senate Whig leader, he could not easily dodge issues that threatened to exacerbate that conflict, especially issues involving slavery.

As early as October 1837, South Carolina's Whig Senator William C. Preston, who refused to follow Calhoun into the Democratic ranks, warned that while Clay remained the only man whom Whigs could elect president, serious obstacles blocked his path to the nomination. Not only were Harrison and Webster in the way, but "there is already a battery opened against him in the South."[12] Although Clay's ownership of slaves made him seem the natural legatee of White's southern support, southern Whigs with state rights views had long mistrusted his nationalism; Clay's American System violated their sense of constitutional propriety and sectional interest.

Satisfying Southerners without alienating northern Whigs in regard to economic policy proved relatively easy. Like Northerners, southern Whigs enthusiastically followed Clay's lead in denouncing and voting against the Independent Treasury bill and Democratic hard-money proposals in order to protect the banking and credit systems. Many southern and some northern Whigs, however, wanted no part of a new national bank, which Clay considered a necessity. Still, in a Senate speech in May 1838, Clay noted that chartering a bank would be inexpedient until public opinion demanded it; and in the fall of that year, he privately conceded that no demand existed. In 1839, in a letter to the state rights ideologue Beverley Tucker, Clay virtually abandoned the rest of his American System. The tariff of 1833, despite its impending reductions, finally settled that issue, he averred, and he no longer saw a need for federal internal improvements. The distribution of federal land revenues sufficed, for the states had made great strides.[13]

The explosive slavery issue posed more problems, for John C. Calhoun and his followers sought an explicit proslavery, prosouthern resolution of that issue from Congress. If Clay condoned any such solution, he realized, he

would alienate abolitionists in key northern states like Ohio, New York, and Massachusetts. Worse, he might antagonize the far more numerous northern Whigs who deplored the abolitionists as dangerous agitators but who would brook no political concessions to the South on the issues involving slavery. Yet Clay also knew that he could not desert his southern base on this issue since, as Preston had warned in October 1837, Calhoun and his friends would discredit his credentials as faithful tribune of the South.

Calhoun rejoined the Democratic party in the fall of 1837 in part because he believed that both Harrison and Webster were antislavery. Furthermore, he fumed, "abolitionists, consolidationists, [and] colonizationists" would control the Whig national convention. By "colonizationists," Calhoun meant members of the American Colonization Society like Henry Clay, who would send free blacks to Africa to induce Southerners to manumit their slaves. The soundest friends of slavery, Calhoun believed, were in the Democratic party, and therefore he returned to it with the hope of controlling it.[14]

Yet Calhoun gave the Democratic party little more fealty than he had given the Whigs. In his attitude toward political parties and toward the slavery issue, the South Carolinian was a political wild card who did not match the dominant suit in either party's hand. Most southern politicians believed that the South could best protect slavery through the party system itself. They sought to mute the issue, to convince northern party allies that party unity necessitated removing slavery from the national political arena. They willingly jousted with each other at home as to which party better defended Southern Rights, but in Congress they wanted to bury all discussion of slavery. On both counts Calhoun vehemently disagreed. He did not think that political parties could protect the South or slavery. The clash of the two parties, he thought, only divided the South. Furthermore, instead of avoiding the slavery issue in Congress, Calhoun insisted that the South must confront the North with demands and force Yankee concessions. Precisely that strategy posed Clay's problem.[15]

Determined to "carry the war into the non-slave holding states," Calhoun on December 27, 1837, introduced six resolutions broadly defending Southern Rights and pressed for their passage. The first two restated Calhoun's familiar argument that the nation was a compact of states and that states had jurisdiction over their own domestic institutions—that is, slavery. Both quickly passed. But the other resolutions insisted that the national government must give "increased stability and security to the domestic institutions of the states," that any interference with slavery in the District of Columbia or in federal territories was "a direct and dangerous attack on the institutions of all the slaveholding States," and that any refusal to annex new slave territory discriminated unconstitutionally against the South.[16]

Author's Notes

11. Nathans, Webster, pp. 61–66; Carroll, Origins of the White Party, pp. 81–83.

12. Amos Kendall to Andrew Jackson, March 20, 1833, quoted in Latner, "A New Look," 956; Curtis, Fox at Bay, pp. 39–46. The announcement on September 25 came from interim Treasury Secretary Roger B. Taney, whom Jackson had appointed specifically to make it.

13. Sentinel, October 4, 1833, quoted in Birkner, "Politics, Law and Enterprise," p. 328.

14. There had been a series of investigations of the Bank since 1830, most of which were biased for or against it according to the predispositions of various committee members. Sellers, Polk: Jacksonian, pp. 178–95.

15. Mangum to Duncan Cameron, Washington, February 7, 1834, in The Mangum Papers, II, pp. 72–75. That the pets were selected for their political reliability is demonstrated in Gatell, "Spoils of the Bank War."

16. Cooper, Politics of Slavery, pp. 50–52.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Holt, Michael F. *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Michael F. Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War* (Oxford University Press, 1999), 94–95.

Shortened citation:

Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party*, 94–95.

CHAPTER 8 · SECONDARY SOURCE S8.86

Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s

Tyler Anbinder

SELECTION	INTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

In the past twenty years, then, the Know Nothings have moved from the periphery of historical scholarship to the center of the debate concerning the political crisis that led to the Civil War. Yet there is no general history of the Know Nothing party, and no work fully addresses the issues currently debated by historians. The most commonly cited book, Ray Billington's The Protestant Crusade, concerns itself primarily with nativism as a social phenomenon, and concentrates on the first forty years of the nineteenth century. Only Billington's concluding chapter considers the political activity of the Know Nothing party, and it is based solely on pamphlet and newspaper sources. Without utilizing the correspondence of the politicians involved, an accurate evaluation of the Know Nothings is impossible. A monograph does exist describing the Know Nothing party in the South, but contemporaries recognized that the Know Nothing party was "essentially a Northern party—all its great victories having been in that section." Furthermore, southern Know Nothingism bore little resemblance to its northern counterpart. The American party in most of the South ignored nativism. In fact, many southern states allowed Catholics to join the Know Nothing party. Furthermore, the history of the Know Nothing party in the South does not shed light on the collapse of the second party system, the extent to which nativism motivated antebellum voters, or the role of anti-immigrant sentiment in the rise of the Republican party."

This work fills this historiographic gap by presenting the first detailed survey of the Know Nothing party in the North. The study focuses to a great extent on state politics, in part because this was the arena in which the Know Nothings exerted the greatest influence, and in part because the organization differed tremendously from state to state. Nonetheless, certain broad themes and recurrent issues unify the story. The first is the role of the slavery controversy in the rise and fall of the Know Nothing party. Northern voters had grown increasingly disenchanted with the Whig and Democratic parties during the early 1850s, and this sentiment peaked after Congress enacted the Kansas-Nebraska bill. Many Northerners decided to abandon their old parties at this time in order to demonstrate their disgust with the new law, and the Know Nothings, who had acquired an anti-slavery reputation, attracted many of these disgruntled voters. Without the political crisis caused primarily by the Kansas-Nebraska Act, and the Know Nothings' anti-slavery reputation, the Know Nothings would never have enjoyed such phenomenal success. Slavery, not nativism, destroyed the second American party system.

But because many Northerners chose to express their anti-slavery sentiment through the Know Nothing organization, the Republican party did not immediately benefit from the fallout over the Kansas-Nebraska Act. The slavery issue also contributed to the Know Nothings' speedy demise, because when the Order appeared to equivocate on the slavery-extension issue at its national convention in 1855, most Northerners abandoned the organization and joined the Republican party. The depth of anti-Catholic sentiment in the United States forms a second theme of this study. Although the Know Nothings' anti-slavery stance drew many Northerners to the Order who would have ordinarily remained faithful to mainstream political parties, these citizens would not have become Know Nothings had they not also sympathized with its anti-Catholic agenda. Many in nineteenth-century America believed that Protestantism was responsible for the freedom and prosperity that the nation's inhabitants enjoyed. Conversely, Catholicism seemed hostile to everything they valued. The American people's devotion to "republicanism" inspired much of their anti-Catholicism, because they believed that the unlimited control which the Catholic hierarchy apparently exercised over its followers deprived Catholics of the independence necessary for participation in a

republican government.
Thus, while the devotion of the American party to nativism varied during its short lifetime, anti-Catholic sentiment never diminished during the mid-nineteenth century.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Anbinder, Tyler. *Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Tyler Anbinder, *Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s* (Oxford University Press, 1992), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Anbinder, *Nativism and Slavery*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.01

The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law

Charles F. Hobson

SELECTION	hapter One
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 10–11 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

By 1811 five Republicans had joined Marshall and Bushrod Washing¬ ton on the Supreme Court, and no further changes occurred until

1823. Party affiliations were virtually meaningless, however, as Marshall enjoyed an unusually harmonious relationship with his brethren. The Court's internal unity—fostered by the chief justice's effective leader¬ ship and by fundamental agreement on basic values embodied in the Constitution—was never stronger than during the years from 1812 to

1824. Marshall's greatest constitutional opinions belong to this period:

McCulloch v. Maryland (1819), which in upholding Congress's power to charter a national bank yielded a classic statement of the doctrines of implied powers and national supremacy; Dartmouth College v. Woodward

(1819), which brought corporate charters within the protection of the contract clause; Cohens v. Virginia (1821), another forceful statement of national supremacy that reaffirmed the Supreme Court's appellate ju¬ risdiction over state judiciaries; and Gibbons v. Ogden (1824), yet another expansive construction of federal power, this time Congress's power to regulate interstate commerce.

By upholding the exercise of national power, striking down state laws, and asserting a supervisory role over the state courts, the Marshall Court roused the spirit of antifederalism and states' rights, nowhere with greater intensity than in the chief justice's own state, Virginia. The

McCulloch and Cohens opinions, in particular, were subjected to wither¬ ing denunciation by newspaper essayists, led by Judge Spencer Roane of the Virginia Court of Appeals. Roane and other critics accused the Court of converting a government of limited powers into a "consoli¬ dated" government, reducing the states to nullities. These censures so alarmed Marshall that he felt compelled to respond in a series of anonymous newspaper essays. To the chief justice the attacks on the Court were really an attack upon the union, an attempt to reinstate the old Confederation. The aftermath of the McCulloch and Cohens opin¬ ions saw periodic attempts in Congress to curb the powers of the fed¬ eral judiciary. Bills were introduced, for example, to take away the Supreme Court's appellate jurisdiction in cases where a state chose to become a party, to prevent the Court from hearing appeals from state courts, and to require the concurrence of a supermajority of justices in constitutional cases. That none of these measures succeeded signified an underlying agreement among the American people to preserve the integrity of the institution.

This consensus (clear enough in retrospect, if not to Marshall and his brethren) did not, to be sure, spare the Court from occasional polit¬ ical controversy. During the last decade of his tenure, Marshall continu¬ ally met with serious challenges to his vision of union and national power and of the role of the Supreme Court as arbiter of the Constitu¬ tion. Whether by coincidence or for reasons of political expediency, the Supreme Court began to render decisions more favorable to state power. In Willson v. Blackbird Marsh Company (1829), a commerce clause case, and again in Providence Bank v. Billings (1830), a contract case, the Court upheld the state law in question. In his last constitutional opin¬ ion, Barron v. Baltimore (1833), Marshall ruled that the Bill of Rights re¬ stricted only the federal government, not the state governments.

The internal unity of the Court also began to break down during the last years, a reflection of the chief s diminishing hold over a Court that was also changing with the addition of new members. Not only did sep¬ arate and dissenting opinions appear more frequently, but after 1830 the justices' communal living arrangements came to an end. In Ogden v.

Saunders (1827), a contract case, Marshall found himself in the minority and registered his only dissent in a constitutional case. Even when the Court did strike down state laws, as in Craig v. Missouri (1830) and in

Worcester v. Georgia (1832), Marshall was unable to restore the old har¬ mony. The latter case—in which the rights of the Cherokee Indians clashed with the asserted sovereignty of the state of Georgia—under¬ scored the impotence of the Supreme Court to check determined polit¬ ical majorities.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Charles F. Hobson, *The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 10–11.

Shortened citation:

Hobson, *The Great Chief Justice*, 10–11.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.02

The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck

Charles F. Hobson

SELECTION	SEey
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2016.

Excerpt

The case of Fletcher v. Peck (1810) is a landmark of American constitutional law for two reasons: It was the first time the Supreme Court invalidated a state law as contrary to the Constitution and the first time the Court applied the clause of the Constitution that prohibits the states from impairing the "Obligation of Contracts." Although in Marbury v. Madison (1803) the Court had struck down a portion of a federal statute, the practice of what came to be known as "judicial review" had its true beginnings with the exposition of the contract clause in Fletcher. Ideas about the judiciary's authority to void legislative acts were still in flux at the time of this decision, with jurists appealing to extraconstitutional principles as well as specific provisions of the Constitution. Chief Justice John Marshall interpreted the contract clause in a way that resolved this debate in favor of invoking the written constitutional text, a development of great significance in consolidating the practice of judicial review. Marshall served as chief justice of the United States from 1801 to 1835, longer than any other chief justice to date.

During his tenure the contract clause emerged as the constitutional expression of the doctrine of "vested rights," which held that rights acquired by individuals under law—most importantly, the right to the security and free enjoyment of property—were to be regarded as inviolable, not to be infringed by governmental power. Vested rights, in the words of twentieth-century scholar Edward S. Corwin, became "the basic doctrine of American constitutional law." Through much of the nineteenth century the contract clause was the Supreme Court's principal weapon to restrain state interference with the vested rights of property. Fletcher established a precedent for an expansive reading of the clause that brought under judicial scrutiny a wide spectrum of state laws. It established the principle that public as well as private contracts tract to include grants of land. In subsequent cases the Court voided a New Jersey law repealing a tax exemption on land formerly belonging to Indians, struck down New Hampshire's laws radically modifying Dartmouth College's colonial charter, and overruled Kentucky's occupying-claimant laws. The term "contract" was further broadened to embrace corporate charters and compacts entered into between two states. In cases between private persons, the Court invalidated a New York bankruptcy statute discharging a previously contracted debt. However, a closely divided Court later upheld a bankruptcy law that discharged a debt contracted after the law's enactment. In its last decade the Marshall Court sustained state laws challenged under the contract clause, including a Rhode Island tax on a bank chartered by the state. These later decisions modified but did not repudiate the broad reading first articulated in Fletcher. The Supreme Court continued to apply the clause robustly to protect property rights against state interference throughout the chief justiceship of Roger B. Taney (1836-1864). In the late nineteenth century the contract clause began to lose its high standing in constitutional law, superseded by the far more comprehensive due process clause of the Fourteenth Amendment. Although the contract clause in our own time has largely receded into insignificance, the broader purposes of constitutional law that it served have proved enduring. The ruling in Fletcher v.

Peck did not actually prevent a state from impairing vested rights the Supreme Court deemed to be protected by the Constitution, though it did contribute indirectly to bringing about a partial redress for this infraction. The Court in 1810 held that a law enacted in 1796 by the legislature of Georgia was unconstitutional, by which time the proscribed act had long since achieved its purpose and was well on its way to becoming a revered milestone of state sovereignty. In Fletcher, Chief Justice Marshall could do no more than demonstrate the contract clause's great potential to be an effective restraint upon the state legislatures. The case had its beginnings in January 1795, when the state of Georgia sold its western lands, encompassing most of present-day Alabama and Mississippi, to four land companies for

$500,000. Then inhabited by the Choctaw, Chickasaw, Creek, and Cherokee tribes of

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Charles F. Hobson, *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck* (University Press of Kansas, 2016), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Hobson, *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.03

The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35

G. Edward White

SELECTION	The Raising II
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 387–388 · Supplied edition: Macmillan, 1988.

Excerpt

Pendleton was helped to his crutches to reply.12° He reiterated what had already been said about jury trial not being excluded and the point that the use of a technical term carried with it all incidents. To allay suspicion of the diversity jurisdiction, he conjured up the spectre of an outland obligee suing in Rhode Island and recovering under their laws but a third or less of his debt. The assignment of a bond to a Marylander to create diversity he disposed of by pointing out that action must be brought in federal court in Virginia. There could be no dragging of the defendant to the Supreme Court. He spoke critically of Mason's amendment as not meeting current practice in equity and admiralty. Mason answered briefly and was followed by John Marshall.

Marshall had earlier crossed swords with Henry on June 10 and his comments then could only have made the latter uncomfortable. He had applauded the idea of adhering to fundamental maxims, and mockingly spun out three ugly "maxims" from Phillips' attainder.%! He had referred to Henry's eulogy of the British constitution and queried innocently whether it would be more agreeable if the Senators were for life, and whether they would be safer if there were a constitutional maxim that the President could do no wrong. In his speech on the judiciary1*? it was not Henry alone, but Mason and Grayson as well who were to be belabored with good-humored and merciless logic.

The skill of Marshall's speech consisted in this—that he had searched out the most vulnerable of the absurdities and dire prophecies and cast these in the form of questions, some of which answered themselves, others of which he answered with reasonableness and temperateness. The principle on which the objections to the federal jurisdiction were based rested on the belief that there would not be a fair trial in these courts. Was there any reason to conclude that judges wisely appointed and independent in their office would countenance any unfair trial? Mason had objected to Congress's power to "create" inferior federal courts. Marshall owned that he had "an apprehension" that the gentlemen who placed no confidence in Congress would object that there might be no inferior courts. He admitted that he had thought that they would think there would be no inferior courts, as this depended on the will of Congress, but that all would be dragged to the center of the Union. What he had not conceived was the objection to the power of increasing the number of courts, for this would remove the inconvenience of being dragged to the center of the United States.

So far as concerned the items of federal jurisdiction, there was the supreme law of the land clause which was envisaged as giving authority to legislate on every subject. Did the United States have such power? Did Mason understand it so? Could they make laws affecting modes of conveyance or contracts or claims between citizens of the same state? Could they go beyond delegated powers? "If they were to make a law not warranted by any of the powers enumerated, it would be considered by the judges as an infringement of the Constitution which they are to guard. They would not consider such a law as coming under their jurisdiction. They would declare it void." 1%?

On two other occasions in the course of this speech, Marshall had occasion to refer to the status of unconstitutional legislation. He did so in scoffing at Mason's extravagant picture of federal officers abusing a man's womenfolk, by declaring that a law authorizing such conduct would be void.4** Again, in pointing out Virginia's deviations from a rule of invariable jury trial in civil cases, he insisted that the state bill of rights was merely recommendatory; otherwise many laws that were expedient would be void.*° Much has been made in various quarters of these early expressions of Marshall's ideas on this subject. But, as already noticed, the conception of judicial control was in

general circulation to the point of being a commonplace. As we have earlier seen, the Virginians themselves were due to grapple with the doctrine in a practical way on June 23. The Court of Appeals had addressed to the legislature a Remonstrance against a new act establishing district courts, assailing it as violation of the 1776 constitution. The text of the Remonstrance appeared in a Richmond newspaper on May 22,

1788.%° Governor Randolph issued a proclamation calling a special session of the legislature for June 23 to the end that the act be examined according to the standard of constitutional right.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

White, G. Edward. *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35*. With the aid of Gerald Gunther. History of the Supreme Court of the United States, vols. 3-4. New York: Macmillan, 1988.

Footnote citation:

G. Edward White, *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35* (Macmillan, 1988), 387–388.

Shortened citation:

White, *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35*, 387–388.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.04

John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland

Gerald Gunther, ed.

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: Stanford University Press, 1969.

Excerpt

And so, a month after the Amphictyon essays appeared, the Philadelphia Union printed John Marshall's response over the nom de plume "A Friend to the Union." Historians have found the essays that appeared in the Union murky and tortured. That is not surprising: what the Union printed was not what Marshall wrote. The Philadelphia printer, as Marshall complained to Washington, had produced "a curious piece of work": "He has cut out the middle of the first number fect impartiality, has cut out the middle of the second number to be inserted in the first. He has thrown these disrupted parts todelphia version, Marshall's reasoning looks indeed like "a laby- "mangled" version has been the basis for historical judgments down to the present day. In this book the essays of "A Friend to the Union" are for the quence. Marshall himself provided the instructions for untangling the Philadelphia morass j he specified the proper form in telling Washington of his wish that his answer "should appear in its true shape" in Virginia. And Washington, now back home at Mount Vernon, found a nearby outlet: there is a heretofore un-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gunther, Gerald, ed. *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Gerald Gunther, ed., *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland* (Stanford University Press, 1969), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

ed., *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.05

M'Culloch v. Maryland: Securing a Nation

Mark R. Killenbeck

SELECTION	tellingly, Marshall's strong Federalist philosophy, which he was now
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2006.

Excerpt

leader of the Court, made it unlikely that Jefferson included him in the group with whom he arguably sought reconciliation in his inaugural address, where he famously declared, "We have called by different names brethren of the same principle. We are all Republicans, we are all Federalists." Over the next several years Marshall molded the Court in his image, transforming it from a bit player in the federal system into a major presence in the formation of a strong, vibrant nation under the terms of a Constitution that he interpreted with a _ strong nationalist cast.

Ironically, one of the first and most important occasions for this arose when, as secretary of state, Marshall failed to deliver to one William Marbury his commission as a justice of the peace for the District of Columbia. Like Marshall, Marbury's appointment represented an attempt by Adams to place trusted Federalists in positions of authority before Jefferson assumed the reins of power.

But Marshall failed to complete the process, and Marbury sought a writ of mandamus from the Supreme Court, an order directing that the new secretary of state, James Madison, deliver Marbury's signed and sealed commission. On December 18, 1801, Chief Justice Marshall announced that the Court would hear the case, setting it for argument during the next term of the Court, which was scheduled for the following June. But Congress had repealed the act authorizing that sitting, and the case was carried over until February 1803. Speaking for a unanimous Court, Marshall delivered the opinion in Marbury v. Madison on February 24, 1803. The actual holding was that the Court did not have the power to hear the case. The Court's original jurisdiction, that is, the power to have a case filed directly with it, was controlled by the plain language of Article IM, which limited that authority to cases involving "Ambassadors, other public Ministers and Consuls, and those in which a State shall be a party." But that clause dictated jurisdiction only for individuals who were officials of foreign nations, a class within which Marbury clearly did not fall.

The provision of the Judiciary Act of 1789 that authorized the Court to issue a writ of this sort was accordingly unconstitutional, as it purported to expand the Court's power beyond the scope of what the Constitution conferred. not have to place in office an individual whose beliefs were at odds with his. But the manner in which Marshall went about reaching the technical legal conclusion actually transformed victory into defeat. The holding of the case required at most a simple statement that the portion of the Judiciary Act authorizing the Court to issue the writ was unconstitutional. And while Marbury became the first case in which the Court actually held that a federal measure violated the Constitution, the notion that a court had the power to issue such a holding was hardly novel. It was not, then, the fact of judicial review but the manner in which Marshall expounded the doctrine that so offended his opponents.

Marshall approached the questions presented in Marbury in an order that allowed him to pen the first of a series of expansive opinions that articulated his vision of the Constitution and the nation it created. The authority of the Court to issue the writ was the third and final question considered. First came a discussion of the nature of the Constitution and the role of the judiciary in interpreting it. As a result, Marshall crafted an opinion announcing that this chief justice had every intention of seeing that the Court would fulfill its role as ay coequal branch of the government. An "act of the legislature, repugnant to the constitution, is void," he declared. And the final responsibility for making such a determination fell to the Court: "It is emphatically the province and duty of the judicial department to say what the lawiis." Marbury thus became the first of the decisions issued by what we now call the Marshall Court that placed the Supreme Court at the center of the American governmental and political systems. In virtually every one of these, Marshall wrote the opinion for the Court.

That reality reflected a second Marshall innovation, the abandonment of the pr nglish under which each me ber of the Court expressed his individual view,-This approach, known as speaking seriatim, had been the norm for the Court. In one of the very few truly important cases decided by the Court in the 1790s, for example, Chisholm v. Georgia (1793), there were five individual opinions, four holding that a federal court had the power to hear a suit against a nonconsenting state and one disagreeing. But Marshall believed that it was important for the Court to speak with a single voice

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Killenbeck, Mark R. *M'Culloch v. Maryland: Securing a Nation*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Mark R. Killenbeck, *M'Culloch v. Maryland: Securing a Nation* (University Press of Kansas, 2006), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Killenbeck, *M'Culloch v. Maryland*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.06

John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court

R. Kent Newmyer

SELECTION	onstitutional Law for a New Nation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 317–318 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2001.

Excerpt

early Republic, so from the beginning was John Marshall. And so was Chief Justice Marshall.* As chief justice, Marshall was ideally placed to implement the broad ""commercial minded" goals of the Framers and the growing needs of American entrepreneurs doing business across state lines. The business community needed economically informed rules, administered uniformly and operating on individuals without regard for state boundaries and local idiosyncrasies. Even more than Congress, the federal courts were in a position to supply such rules, both in national and international law. In the adversarial system based on common-law methodology inherited from England, individuals could call the courts into action. As the final appellate court in the structure of federal courts, the Supreme Court could in turn call on the collective authority of the nation to settle individual economic disputes. During Marshall's tenure, almost every case, excepting those dealing with the judicial process itself, treated economic disputes. Even cases dealing with the Court's jurisdiction—Marbury, Martin v. Hunter's Lessee, Cohens, and the great admiralty case of De Lovio v. Boit (1815) come readily to mind—were fraught with market-related consequences.

Nearly every one of Marshall's great constitutional opinions, most notably Fletcher, McCulloch, Dartmouth College, and Gibbons, facilitated market development. The federal circuit courts in Marshall's time were also directly involved in the economic life of the people by virtue of the fact that they had jurisdiction over suits between citizens of different states. Marshall's circuit, consisting only of Virginia and North Carolina, was less on the cutting edge of economic development than was Story's New England circuit, but no less than Story, Marshall understood the market-enhancing potential of uniform circuit law.* Market considerations, then, permeate almost every aspect of Marshall's work on the Court, connecting the various aspects of his labors into a jurisprudential whole. Decisions in international law were no less a part of this integrated system than were those in constitutional law. Rule of law in the international setting had to be established without the aid of a written supreme law governing individual nation-states.

But the rule of law was Marshall's object just the same, and the law he attempted to establish whenever possible respected private property and expanded the ability of individual entrepreneurs, whether American shippers or foreign merchants such as Manuel Pinto, to make their Lockean way in a world at war. His numerous Contract Clause opinions also fit the market scenario. In cases involving land transactions especially—in Fletcher v. Peck most conspicuously but also in Huidekoper's Lessee, New Jersey v. Wilson, and later Johnson v. McIntosh (1823)—he was guided, if not driven, by a concern for market regularity.©" Marshall's efforts to facilitate national economic activity climaxed in the remarkable triad of decisions in 1819 and ended with Gibbons in 1824. The correspondence between Marshall's plan for national unity and Henry Clay's American System, not to mention the national vision of newly elected president John Quincy Adams, was not coincidental.

The Court's constitutional nationalism was a two-edged sword, and it cut both ways for economic unity: by prohibiting states from interfering with the national market, as in Sturges and Gibbons, and by giving Congress the power to promote the same, as in McCulloch. Even Dartmouth College fit the market scenario, readying the American business corporation to do business on a national scale. What these national decisions of the Marshall Court did not do, however, was create a modern nation-state, with its extensive regulatory apparatus. No one, least of all Marshall, expected Congress to regulate the national economy; indeed, the first modern regulatory statute did not come until three years after his death in 1838, when Congress passed modest safety laws regulating steam boilers on

steamboats plying interstate waters. The federal income tax did not come until the Civil War, and even then it was temporary, thanks to the nullifying decision of the Supreme Court in Pollack v. Farmers, Loan and Trust Co. in 1895. What Marshall wanted was more modest—and more within the limited nationalist notions of the age.
He believed in a national bank, advocated by Hamilton in 1791; in a tariff designed to protect fledgling American manufacturers, also advocated by Hamilton; and in federally sponsored internal improvements, the kind first advocated by Albert Gallatin in 1809. What he wanted the national

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Newmyer, R. Kent. *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

R. Kent Newmyer, *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court* (Louisiana State University Press, 2001), 317–318.

Shortened citation:

Newmyer, *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court*, 317–318.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.07

Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic

Thomas H. Cox

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 155–156 · Supplied edition: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Constitution, Marshall insisted that "the enlightened patriots who formed our constitution, and the people who adopted it," employed plain words to clearly express their ideas toward government.'* The commerce clause of the U.S. Constitution clearly gave Congress the "power to regulate commerce with foreign nations, and among the several states, and with the Indian tribes." He broke the clause down into its constituent parts. The phrase "commerce," he said, referred to the purchase or sale of commodities. However, he added, "commerce, undoubtedly, is traffic, but it is something more; it is intercourse." Under Marshall's definition, intercourse included trade between nations and between different parts of the same nation. The chief justice wryly commented, "The mind can scarcely conceive a system for regulating commerce between nations, which shall exclude all laws concerning navigation, which shall be silent on the admission of vessels of the one nation into the ports of the other, and be confined to prescribing rules for the conduct of individuals, in the actual employment of buying and selling, or of barter."!" Since its inception, Congress had frequently wielded power over navigation as well as commerce, Marshall said.

Both the framers and the American public in 1787 had understood that commerce necessarily included navigation. If Congress could show no favoritism to one American port at the expense of another, then the legislative branch obviously had powers to regulate both commerce and navigation. The ability of the federal government to impose embargoes further belied formidable powers to regulate commerce and navigation in both wartime and peacetime. Even New Englanders who had opposed President Jefferson's embargoes twenty years earlier had conceded the point.'* Having defined commerce, the chief justice then upheld Congress's authority to regulate commerce with foreign nations and "among the several states." Marshall argued that the word "among" meant "intermingled with." He further elaborated, "A thing, which is among others, is intermingled with them. Combut may be introduced into the interior."!° States retained exclusive power only over internal trade solely within their borders.° Congressional commerce power, however, did not end at state boundaries but included "the deep streams which penetrate our country in every direction, pass thorough the interior of almost every state in the Union."

The federal government could, therefore, regulate commerce within state boundaries: because many states shared common borders, interstate commerce necessarily included trade across state lines."

Author's Notes

156. Agreements between Steamboats Bellona & Philadelphia and the Union Line of Stages, April 22, 1822, Gibbons Family Papers, Drew University Library.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cox, Thomas H. *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*. Athens: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Thomas H. Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic* (Ohio University Press, 2009), 155–156.

Shortened citation:

Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*, 155–156.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.08

The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law

Charles F. Hobson

SELECTION	Property Rights and the Contract Clause
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 73–74 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

To Marshall the contract clause epitomized a Constitution whose true character lay less in its grant of powers to the federal government than in its abridgment of state powers. Under his guidance of the Supreme Court, this provision performed a function similar to that later under¬ taken by the Fourteenth Amendment, which was adopted after the Civil

War. That amendment—which declared that no state could "deprive any person of life, liberty, or property, without due process of law; nor deny to any person within its jurisdiction the equal protection of the laws"—in turn during the twentieth century became the Supreme Court's instrument for applying the Bill of Rights amendments to the states. Prior to this development the guarantees of those amendments were held to restrain only the federal government, as Marshall himself declared in one of his last opinions, Barron v. Baltimore (1833). Yet to a remarkable degree Marshall succeeded in making the original Consti¬ tution, via the contract clause, serve as a charter of rights that protected the American people from the acts of their state governments. He ex¬ pressly recognized this broader constitutional purpose in Fletcher v. Peck

(1810), when he observed (in reference to Article 1, section 10) that "the constitution of the United States contains what may be deemed a bill of rights for the people of each state."[1]

The prevailing view of Marshall's contract clause jurisprudence is that he substantially enlarged the meaning of the clause beyond the in¬ tention of its framers. Some contend that the jurist deliberately ig¬ nored the original meaning in order to read into it his own political and economic attitudes, notably, his strong attachment to property rights and creditor interests. Given Marshall's "ardent desire to secure further protection for the rights of property," noted one commentator, "it is not surprising that the Supreme Court under his domination should have given to the clause a meaning far broader than any which its framers ever attached to it."[2] Others admire the creativity of Mar¬ shall's contract clause opinions, praising the chief justice for carrying out his duty to interpret the Constitution without being tied down to some supposed original and fixed meaning of that instrument.[3]

To explain Marshall's contract decisions as the product of his undeni¬ able sympathy for the rights of property is simplistic and reductionist. not regard property as sacred and who did not believe that its protection was one of the fundamental purposes of the Constitution? Whatever

Marshall's personal beliefs, security for property was indisputably a con¬ stitutional value that as chief justice he was bound to uphold. Without question his interests as a property owner and supporter of business en¬ terprise, along with his experience as a lawyer representing merchants, planters, creditors, and debtors, shaped his thinking about the relation¬ ship between law and the economy. From the time he began practicing law in the 1780s, Marshall had a lifelong identification with the urban, commercial interests of Richmond. Fie regularly invested in companies chartered by the Virginia legislature to improve river navigation, con¬ struct canals, and build turnpikes, and also subscribed to stock in banks and insurance companies. As a direct participant in these projects, he acquired knowledge of Virginia's political economy and gained an ap¬ preciation of the role of corporations in promoting commercial prosper¬ ity. Respect for rights conferred by corporate charters was a central tenet of the Virginia system with which he was conversant. That a corporate charter was a kind of contract, perhaps one that was constitutionally pro¬ tected, was perfectly consistent with Marshall's Virginia experience.[4]

Marshall was familiar with public contracts in an even more direct sense than as a stockholder in chartered business enterprises. The se¬ curity of his own large-scale investment in purchasing the Fairfax estate rested on an agreement he entered into with the Commonwealth of Virginia that was enacted into law in 1796. To resolve a dispute over title to lands in the Northern Neck of Virginia (which the Fairfax family had held as proprietors before the Revolution), Marshall and others claiming under the Fairfax title relinquished all claim to those lands in the former proprietary that were "waste and ungranted," and the com¬ monwealth relinquished its claim to those lands that had been specifi¬ cally appropriated by the proprietor. The latter were the so-called "manor lands" that Marshall and his associates had contracted to pur¬ chase.[5] Although a state was a party to this contract, the future chief justice might well have assumed that its obligation was as fully protected against impairment as a contract between private parties.

Author's Notes

1. 6 Cranch 137-38.

2. Benjamin Fletcher Wright, Jr., The Contract Clause of the Constitution (Cam¬ bridge, Mass., 1938), 26.

3. See, for example, Joseph Lynch, "Fletcher v. Peck: The Nature of the Con¬ tract Clause," Seton Hall Law Review 13 (1982): 120.

4. Bruce A. Campbell, "John Marshall, the Virginia Political Economy, and the Dartmouth College Decision," American Journal of Legal History 19 (1975): 40-65.

5. Samuel Shepherd, The Statutes at Large of Virginia (1835; New York, 1979 reprint), 2:22-23. See Charles F. Hobson, ed., The Papers of John Marshall (Chapel Hill, N.C., 1995), 8:109-10.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Charles F. Hobson, *The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 73–74.

Shortened citation:

Hobson, *The Great Chief Justice*, 73–74.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.09

The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck

Charles F. Hobson

SELECTION	paired the obligation of contract and was void under the contract
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2016.

Excerpt

clause of the Constitution. Even Hamilton prefaced his 1796 opinion by pronouncing the rescinding act "a contravention of the first principles of natural justice and social policy." The subordinate role of the contract clause was also evident in the congressional debates on the Yazoo question. Those who contested the legality of the Georgia act put greater emphasis on natural law and vested-rights arguments. These arguments in turn borrowed heavily from the N.E.M. Land Co.'s "Vindication," which had been presented to Congress in 1804. The "Vindication," whose principal author was Perez Morton, provided the most exhaustive statement to date of the case against Georgia's rescinding act, bringing together arguments that had previously been advanced individually. The "Vindication" contended that the rescinding act was "void in law" no matter whether the Georgia legislature acted as party to the contracts under the 1795 law, as a judicial tribunal, or in its "common capacity as a legislature."

In the first capacity, as a party, the legislature violated the well-known maxim that "'no man has a right to be a judge in his own case.'" Harper and others had cited this maxim in slightly different form as stating that a party to a contract could not exempt himself from its obligation. The "Vindication" next denied that the legislature could act as a judicial tribunal, repeating the familiar principle of separation of powers—a principle secured by both the national and state constitutions.. The "Vindication" gave closest attention to considering the Georgia Assembly's "common capacity" as a legislature. Here it recapitulated themes others had invoked against legislative power, particularly in denying that a legislature's power to repeal its own acts was absolute. Legislative acts, it was argued, were essentially of two kinds. One was "public acts for the government of all the citizens," which could be repealed or modified as the legislature saw fit. Other acts were "of a very different nature," such as "contracts, pacts and agreements entered into for certain purposes."

Although both kinds of acts were termed "laws," the latter were contracts between two parties, in which rights were "acquired, and vested." These could not, "from the nature of things, be annulled, abrogated or repealed." Other acts belonging to this category were grants of public privileges trine: to abrogate rights acquired under these laws was to annihilate "every principle of civil liberty." The "Vindication" then proceeded to divide acts in the nature of contracts into two classes, "executory and executed," a distinction borrowed from Blackstone that Chief Justice Marshall would also employ. In the former the benefit was to vest in the future, while in the latter it had already vested. Executed acts could not be repealed because the rights acquired under the act had vested in another party and "the thing contracted for is actually transferred, and the possession vested in the grantee."

On this ground the rescinding act was "void and of no effect" because the act of 1795 had vested rights in certain persons of which they could not be "rightfully deprived" by subsequent legislation without violating "the very fundamental principles on which all our governments rest, and of every principle of national and municipal law." Only after many pages expatiating on vested rights, including extensive quotations from Vattel's Law of Nations and Chase's opinion in Calder v. Bull, did the "Vindication" finally declare the rescinding act to be "a direct infringement and violation" of the contract clause of the Constitution. That clause expressly prohibited not only the legislature but also the people of Georgia in convention from impairing the obligation of contract. Ultimately, the "Vindication" chose to clinch the case against the rescinding act by invoking "still higher authority than the national constitution." Georgia's claim of power to abrogate the sale contracts was "denied by every principle of NATURAL LAW.

Power may vanquish but it cannot destroy right, since that is derived from the nature of things, and, while the passions and feelings of men are governed by the circumstances of the moment, remains founded on a firm and solid

basis, which will abide forever." As he prepared to hear Fletcher v. Peck at the 1809 term of the Supreme Court, Chief Justice Marshall was no doubt thoroughly familiar with all the arguments derived from natural law, vested-rights doctrine, and the contract clause in favor of circumscribing the powers of the state-legislatures and justifying judicial intervention to enforce those limits. He had himself expounded on vested rights in

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Charles F. Hobson, *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck* (University Press of Kansas, 2016), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Hobson, *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.10

Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819

Francis N. Stites

SELECTION	onclusions
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 109–110 · Supplied edition: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Excerpt

could not be abrogated were those expressly conferred by the charter or incidental to the charter's existence did not settle the question. He referred to the Providence Bank decision and the rule that the corporation, like the individual, must share the public burden, and Taney's Charles River Bridge declaration of the need to protect the rights of the community. These precedents, he felt, justified his decision that the state police power was sufficient for regulation of corporations, so far as necessary to prevent injury to persons or property, without regard to charter provisions. *4
The Supreme Court took an important step toward using the police power to regulate corporations in Munn v. Illinots (1877).°° Like Taney, Chief Justice Waite faced the problem of reconciling the community's need to cope with changing economic conditions and precedents upholding vested rights. His solution was the rule that when private property is "'affected with a public interest," it is subject to public regulation. This "public interest"? doctrine repudiated the Dartmouth College decision. Although Waite had expressed adherence to that precedent and insisted that the two doctrines were compatible, the "public interest" doctrine abandoned Marshall's rule that the origin of the corporation determined its character and adopted Richardson's rule concerning the objects of incorporation.®® Waite was occupying the middle ground that Marshall in 1819 would not admit. He created a new class of corporations, the quasi-public corporation whose franchise and property were private but whose business was "'affected with a public interest" and subject to regulation. Most corporations receiving public franchises were of this character. With legislative regulation possible in the public interest, the implication of Munn was application of the police power to the many important beneficiaries of the Dartmouth College decision. Within three years the Court had applied the police power to uphold state regulation of corporations.

The leading case here is Stone v. Mississippi (1880).5" There were other cases between 1877 and 1880, but Stone was the first where the police power was the only ground for sustaining the state statute.°* In 1867 Mississippi had chartered a lottery company. In a revised constitution, the state then prohibited the lottery business and passed an act subjecting that business to prosecution. The lottery protested that the statute impaired the obligation of contract. Waite began his opinion with a statement on Dartmouth College. It was too late, he said, to contend that a charter was not a contract. That doctrine announced by the court more than sixty years ago had "become so imbedded in the jurisprudence of the United States as to make it to all intents and purposes a part of the constitution itself."5® He maintained that instead of protecting the corporate charter, the Constitution protected only contracts contained within the charter. No one, he said, could doubt that a charter existed. The existence of a contract, however, depended upon the authority of the legislature to bargain away the subject of the grant.
Property rights were valid and proper subjects of contract; government rights were not. Pointing to Marshall's Dartmouth College declaration that the contract clause was not intended to restrain the states in the regulation of their internal affairs, Waite contended that no legislature was free to bargain away public health and morals. He admitted the police power lacked definition, but asserted that it extended to matters affecting public health and morals. Consequently, when a corporate charter was granted subject to this power, there was no contract, only a suspension of government rights which was subject to withdrawal at will.°° These decisions on eminent domain, police power, and taxation affirmed the Court's adherence to the Dartmouth College doctrine, while they reserved to the Court the power to determine in every case the nature of the corporation and the validity of the legislation. There was little apparent difference between the property rights inherent in a college and those in a brewery and as much

alienation of state power in a tax exemption as in a license to conduct a lottery.
Yet these inconsistencies only demonstrated the magnitude of the problem facing the Supreme Court in reconciling private rights and public welfare, not to mention the judicial dilemmas produced by adherence to precedents in the face of a drastically changed environment.

Many viewed these modifications, especially the Granger cases and the police power, as taking the life out of the doctrine of vested rights as embodied in the Dartmouth College decision. It seemed that the protection given corporations had been removed and that it would be a rare case in which a decision could be obtained voiding any conccivable legislative interference. As one critic phrased it: “this historic cause has been embalmed in spices, and laid carefully away upon a shelf, eehl

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stites, Francis N. *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819*. Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Footnote citation:

Francis N. Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819* (University of Massachusetts Press, 1972), 109–110.

Shortened citation:

Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain*, 109–110.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.11

The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35

G. Edward White

SELECTION	ANTECEDENTS AND BEGINNINGS TO I8OI
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 750–751 · Supplied edition: Macmillan, 1988.

Excerpt

1780 paid £933. into the state loan office and received a certificate to the effect that the sum paid be applied to the credit of their accounts with plaintiff creditors, thus discharging a part of the debt; (3) that a Virginia Act of 1779 declared that all property real and personal within the commonwealth belonging to British subjects be deemed to vest in the commonwealth; further, by an Act of 1782 it was declared that no demand originally due a British subject should be recoverable in any of the state courts although transferred to a citizen unless the assignment was made in good faith for a valuable consideration before May I, 1777; that the debt was personal property within the Act of May 3, 1779, and never transferred under the 1782 act; (4) that the British had breached the agreement in the treaty to withdraw forces without carrying away negroes or other American property, and further by failing to give up the western posts, and by inciting the Indians; (5) that the effect of the Declaration of Independence and the dissolution of the then-government had been to annul the debt.

To these pleas, plaintiff replied to the first, non-payment, and on this issue was joined. To the second plea he made replication, especially setting up the fourth article of the treaty of peace and the supreme law of the land clause of the Constitution. Defendants rejoined, averring breach of the treaty by Britain and reiterating that the debt was not bona fide. Plaintiffs demurred to the rejoinder. To the third, fourth and fifth pleas plaintiff also demurred and issue was joined. The Circuit Court found for plaintiff on pleas 3, 4 and 5. On the demurrer to the rejoinder to the replication (plea 2), Iredell and Griffin found for defendants, Jay contra. When the issue on plea 1 was finally tried, the jury found a verdict for only $596 plus 5 percent interest from July 2,

1752, and costs. On the return of the record to the Supreme Court the error assigned was that judgment had been given for defendants instead of plaintiff upon the demurrer to the rejoinder to the replication to the second plea. Defendants were represented by John Marshall and Alexander Campbell of Virginia, plaintiff by E. Tilghman, William Lewis and Alexander Wilcocks of Philadelphia.

The arguments which occupied five days are not well reported, for as noticed in the preceding chapter, what Dallas published was abstracted from notes of William Tilghman taken presumably for his own convenience and not for publication.1?® Consequently these arguments will be considered only as they were touched on by the Court.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

White, G. Edward. *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35*. With the aid of Gerald Gunther. History of the Supreme Court of the United States, vols. 3-4. New York: Macmillan, 1988.

Footnote citation:

G. Edward White, *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35* (Macmillan, 1988), 750–751.

Shortened citation:

White, *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35*, 750–751.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.12

Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States

James Willard Hurst

SELECTION	The Balance of Power
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 75–76 · Supplied edition: University of Wisconsin Press, 1956.

Excerpt

So rar as these tacts detine it, was certainly not the product of calculation. Policy made by drift and default bulked larger than deliberated decision in forming the century's final legacy to its successor.

The release-of-energy principle contributed to the currents of 1870- 1908 mainly by providing a range of flexible contract and association devices, notably the corporation and the procedures of large-scale finance. Two elements of drift and default gave unexpected direction and effect to this release of energy. Contract and free private association suggest relations entered voluntarily; the compulsion involved is ostensibly only that to which persons have given some initial consent. The first unforeseen factor that entered the play of the release-of-energy principle was the enormous expansion of practical compulsion imposed on strangers to contracts or associations, as commercial and industrial corporations and investment bankers reached out to occupy the multi-state markets whose availability the law had guaranteed. Economic growth tied the lives of an increasing proportion of people to the market and the division of labor; they were either wage or salary earners, or small producers or traders in specialized ranges of goods or services. Theoretically buyers consent to the practical compulsions of the market in which they buy; if they do not consent, they stay out.

But men who find their whole livelihood in the market are too vulnerable to stay out. An outstanding recognition of this simple but slowly learned truth was the legislation which limited or abolished the employer's defense of assumption of risk in industrial accident cases. To balance the reach for broader trade areas on the one hand, and the individual's access to new markets on the other, became of manifest concern to the late nineteenth-century courts as they dealt with covenants by the seller of a business not to compete with his buyer. It was more than coincidence that the end of the nineteenth century, which produced the definitive victory of a market-oriented way of life, also produced an emerging pattern of law dealing with obstruction of access to markets, Intimidation by violence, threats of harassing litigation, slander of goods, bogus competition, interference with contract relations, boycotts, and exclusive dealing arrangements barring the door to trade opportunities took on critical meaning when all livelihood turned upon participation in trading or the availability of employment.* We had to learn a second major lesson about our release-of-energy principle.

During the first half of the century we expressed that principle chiefly through contract. But sound doctrine for so fundamental a community concern as the organization of power requires built-in points situation. Contract was inherently too limited an institution to serve this need, Its nature was to express and serve the immediate interests of bargaining parties; indeed, this restricted focus upon the contractor's ambitions was what made contract socially useful as the prime legal device to multiply the release of individual or group energies. Moreover, as a matter of law private individuals or groups were held quite strictly to their roles as private contractors or property owners. A litigant who claimed to vindicate a public interest might generally find standing in court only if he could show that his suit would likewise protect his special interest. Conversely, if a broad public policy came in issue in a private lawsuit—as in a question of the constitutionality or interpretation of a statute—there was little the public authorities might do to intervene, to speak directly on behalf of the public program.

Again, pursuit of profit not only justified doing ordinary competitive damage to a market rival, but was a business firm's whole legal excuse for being. When Henry Ford would have cut car prices for the declared purpose of spreading employment and wealth, the Michigan court, in terms which carry the tone of the late nineteenth century,

declared this not a proper corporate policy: “A business corporation is organized and carried on primarily for the profit of the stockholders… [I]t is not within the lawful powers of a board of directors to shape and conduct the affairs of a corporation for the merely incidental benefit of shareholders and for the primary purpose of benefiting others….”® The cautious sense that contract alone was not a sufficient organizing principle for society never quite deserted us. Always the courts held onto a residual power to refuse enforcement to contracts which they found to offend public policy. From the Taney years the Supreme Court never deviated from the ruling that the contracts clause did not prevent the operation of state police power upon existing agreements. These reservations were significant.
However, not until events set their current after 1870 were legislatures or courts pressed to make broad use of the authority so reserved.

Moreover, the very care with which we reserved power to “police” enforcement of contracts or behavior in which contracts might be involved expressed a dangerous limit on imagination. Implicit here was the notion that the important thing was to deal with the positive social harms that men might willfully do. But the most serious damage that preoccupation with contract wrought in important areas of our life was done nat theanah “willfjilnece Fiat thenangh jtndaifexvaonna new Tack Af mmc fe

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hurst, James Willard. *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1956.

Footnote citation:

James Willard Hurst, *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (University of Wisconsin Press, 1956), 75–76.

Shortened citation:

Hurst, *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States*, 75–76.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.13

The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860

Morton J. Horwitz

SELECTION	Competition and Economic Development
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 111–112 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1977.

Excerpt

There is a clear relationship between competition and economic development in nineteenth century America. In an underdeveloped society, with little available private capital, a policy of encouraging development required that the legal system provide legal arrangements that guaranteed private investors certainty and predictability of economic consequences. Perhaps the most important of these guarantees was protection'against freedom from competitive injury. To accommodate this policy, courts promulgated rules reflecting a view of property as essentially exclusive and monopolistic, so that every attempt to draw business away from an existing enterprise was usually treated as an injury to property itself.

As it became bound up with a state policy of promoting development, private investment was also regarded as an extension of state efforts to further economic growth. The legal system thus rarely distinguished between'public and private forms of investment. But as d'evelopment proceeded, the early monopolistic strategy for encouraging economic growth soon became a legal barrier to further growth. Certainty and predictability of legal arrangements became incompatible with sustained economic development. Previous state concessions to private interests·thus had come to represent obstacles to continued growth, and for th'e first time state efforts to encourage economic growth began to diverge from private efforts to preserve existing.legal expectations. Under the continuing pressure to encourage further investment, the legal system gradually began to distinguish between public and private interests. A monopolistic and exclusionary conception of property was replaced by legal rules that allowed various uncompensated injuries to property. Eventually, out of this sweeping redefinition of property, the legal presumption in favor of competition emerged full blown.

The change in the conception of the corporation marks one of the fundamental transitions from the legal assumptions of the, eighteenth century to those of the nineteenth. The archetypal American corporation of the eighteenth century is the municipality, a public body charged with carrying out public functions; in the nineteenth century it is the modem business corporation, organized to pursue private ends for individual gain. By the time of the decision in the Dartmouth College case[3] (1819), holding that a corporate charter was a contract, the conception of the corporation as a public body had been on the decline for almost a generation, although the implications of this trend were only beginning to be explored. The distinctipn between public and private corporations, so prominent in Justice Story's c.oncurring opinion, was above all a response to the dramatic growth in the number of business corporations during the previous generation. As late as 1780, colonial legislatures had conferred charters on only seven business corporations, and a decade later the number had increased to but forty. However, in the last ten years of the eighteenth century 295 additional corporate charters were granted. [4]

During the· early years of the nineteenth century both the weight of the old corporate model and the pressure for change are everywhere in evidence. In 1809 the Virginia Supreme Court upheld a legislative act amending the charter of an insurance corporation. "With respect to acts of incorporation," Judge Spencer Roane observed', "they ought never to be passed, but in consideration ofservices,to be rendered to the public.... It may be often convenient for a set of associated individuals, to have the privileges of a corporation bestowed upon them; but if their object is merely prz"vate or selfish; if it is detrimental to, or not promotive of, the public good, they have no adequate claim upon the legislature for the privileges."5 Yet, three years earlier the Massachusetts Supreme Court for the first time recognized the private nature of a recently organized turnpike corporation. Probably intending to put to one side the long history

of state regulation of the affairs of municipal corporations, it observed that "the rights legally vested in this, or in any corporation, cannot be controlled or destroyed by any subsequent statute, unless a power for that purpose be reserved to the legislature in the act of incorporation."6

Author's Notes

3. 17 U.S. (4 ·Wheat.) 518 (1819).

4. 4 J. S. Davis, Essays z"n the Earlz"er H'istory of Amerz"can Corporatz"ons 24 (1917). By 1801 only eight manufacturing corporations had received charters. Id. at 269.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Horwitz, Morton J. *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1977.

Footnote citation:

Morton J. Horwitz, *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860* (Harvard University Press, 1977), 111–112.

Shortened citation:

Horwitz, *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860*, 111–112.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.14

Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861

Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin

SELECTION	SOCIAL DISORGANIZATION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 209–210 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969.

Excerpt

Few Massachusetts men questioned the inviolability of pri¬ vate property and of the contract. Property held 'a higher and stronger title than any which society can confer'; without it 'all other rights became worthless and visionary,' and it alone made progress possible. A compact rested upon a 'principle of policy... essential to all tolerable governments... the absolute security of property.' Its binding force 'depends upon a law which neither kings nor people enacted or can repeal. It comes from the awful Being who created and fash¬ ioned us... and the united will of the whole human race cannot influence it.' In the most famous test of the contrac¬ tual relation in this period, all parties recognized its sanctity. Even Judge Marcus Morton, a reform democrat anxious to circumscribe the application of the idea, nevertheless admit¬ ted 'a contract is deemed sacred, and the constitution nowhere allows the violation of its obligations... for any exigency or upon making compensation.... Any legislative act... having this effect, is a nullity.' If the radicals could put the idea of contract to the service of their own extreme proposals, that only emphasized further Chief Justice Parker's assump¬ tion that the principles themselves were no longer disputable.

There was no agreement, however, about the extent to which commitments hobbled a government prompted by obsecrations in the name of reform to venture into unfamiliar paths. The defenders of privilege attempted to broaden the conception of property and contract to protect previous grants from adverse legislative action, seeking to prevent the General Court from becoming sole judge of exigency in disputes to which it was a party, a role inconsistent 'with all sound and just notions of private right.'6 The franchise, they reasoned, was, like other property, beyond state control. The individual owner of a licensed bridge which seriously obstructed navigation claimed successfully that there was no authority capable of forcing him to remove or alter his structure.6

But the failure to secure the same vantage point for the corporation left privilege teetering at the edge of disaster. The test came with the claim in 1829 of the proprietors of the

Charles River Bridge that their act of incorporation was a contract by which they acquired 'an incorporeal hereditament; being a valuable property, consisting in the franchise of being a corporation.' The charter to the competing Warren Bridge, cheek by jowl with their own structure, they contended, was unconstitutional as a violation of contract and as confisca¬ tion of property.6 They vigorously asserted that their rights covered the whole line of travel between Charlestown and Boston and included the essential power 'to put down injurious competition.' For, 'where a thing is granted, all that is neces¬ sary to the enjoyment of it goes with it.' And if the govern¬ ment could create as many bridges as it pleased without regard to the prosperity of the existent ones, then the splendid secur¬ ity of the original act of incorporation was of no value. The franchise would remain intact on the statute books but would rot away beneath an insidious attack against which the Chinese wall of contract would offer no defense.

The contrary argument of the Warren Bridge that the act of incorporation referred only to the immediate termini, that there was 'no contract by the commonwealth, that no new charter shall be granted, which shall interfere with the busi¬ ness or profits of the old' drew the support of half the court.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Handlin, Oscar, and Mary Flug Handlin. *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861*. Rev. ed. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin, *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969), 209–210.

Shortened citation:

Handlin, *Commonwealth*, 209–210.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.15

John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court

R. Kent Newmyer

SELECTION	Republican Judge as Lockean Liberal
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 251–252 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2001.

Excerpt

corporate property, and corporate property was defined in terms of the property rights of individual corporate members.

This static, one might say premodern, approach to corporate property in Dartmouth College was forecast in Bank of the United States v. Deveaux (1809), where the question was about whether a corporation could sue in the federal courts. No provision was made for such suits in the Judiciary Act of 1789, but Marshall upheld jurisdiction anyway, reasoning that the rights of individual stockholders to sue could be transferred to the corporate entity. Since the stockholders of the bank were citizens of Pennsylvania, the corporation could sue under diversity of citizenship in the federal courts. Deveaux was abandoned as unworkable in 1844 in Louisville, Cincinnati, and Charleston Railroad v. Letson (1844) when the Court ruled that for jurisdictional purposes the corporation was a citizen of the state in which it was incorporated. What remained, however, and what was the key to Marshall's approach in Dartmouth College, was the working assumption that the legal rights of corporations could be defined by the individual rights of the stockholders. It followed that the property of corporations was entitled to the same legal protection as the private property of individuals, even though the corporation was created by the state and might have a public function.

By Marshall's reasoning in the college case, then, the right to govern, granted in the old charter—like the right to office in Marbury or the right to sue in Deveaux—was simply a matter of property vested by contract. To emphasize the point, he noted further that the right to govern included the right of the trustees, if they saw fit, to give themselves teaching jobs for real money. Having established that the charter had bestowed property rights on the trustees, it was an easy, indeed nearly unnoticed leap to conclude that it was a contract within the meaning of the Contract Clause of the Constitution. There was no doubt in Marshall's mind that the Contract Clause "must be understood as intended to guard against a power of at least doubtful utility, the abuse of which had been extensively felt; and to restrain the legislature in future from violating the right to property." If any authority for the interpretation was needed, he found it in the history of the states under the Articles of Confederation.

The law according to Marshall was that corporate property was identical to private property, that the legal character of the corporation might be inferred from the rights belonging to individual stockholders. All of this he stated before he got to the main point, the Court's holding, assumed but not proved, that a corporate charter was a contract within the meaning of the Contract Clause of the Constitution.® Given the conceptual improvisation in Marshall's opinion, and the fact that it was cited so often to support corporate development throughout the nineteenth century, it is tempting to conclude that Marshall was a modernizer par excellence: that he read the future and brought the law into harmony with it. A close consideration of his reasoning, however, reminds us that even the wisest of men sometimes create what they know not. This does not deny the role Marshall's opinion played in nineteenth-century economic development, but only insists that his reasoning and his vision were deeply anchored in the traditional common-law world he knew firsthand in Virginia.

He concentrated on the law governing eleemosynary corporations and the vested-rights doctrines that went with it, not because he was trying to disguise his doctrinal innovations, but because he believed that the old law he cited so copiously was controlling.

To put it another way, his reasoning in Dartmouth College did not advance appreciably over his argument in Bracken v. The College of William and Mary in 1790. It was Joseph Story, not Marshall, who put a modern spin on these

ancient ideas and in doing so made them serviceable to the new American business corporation. What Story said in his concurring opinion, and what Marshall only touched on, was that the public or private character of a corporation is determined not by its function but by its foundation. If the foundation, the capital, is private, according to Story, then so is the corporation. Private corporations, even though they were chartered by the state and even though they might be connected with the welfare of the public, were immune from state regulation unless the state explicitly reserved the right to do so in the charter. Those who founded Dartmouth College with private donations were protected from state regulations and state taking by the Contract Clause of the Constitution. So were the bold capitalists and friends of Story who created the new textile corporations of the Merrimack Valley in the 1820s.

This is not to argue that Marshall did not advance the doctrine of Fletcher, that grants were contracts, in Dartmouth College, where he held that corporate charters were contracts. He did so, however, not as a self-conscious innovator, or a sly modernizer, but as a traditional judge applying old principles to

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Newmyer, R. Kent. *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

R. Kent Newmyer, *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court* (Louisiana State University Press, 2001), 251–252.

Shortened citation:

Newmyer, *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court*, 251–252.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.16

Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made

Robert F. Dalzell Jr.

SELECTION	Transportation, Banking, and Insurance
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 99–100 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

1798, the General Court agreed to charter the Massachusetts Mutual Fire Insurance Company provided that its directors secured pledges for $2 million in property coverage before beginning business. Even¬ tually a vigorous campaign, stretched over an entire year, produced the necessary pledges.4

With one company operating successfully, others soon entered the field. Most early fire insurance policies were written on commercial and industrial property, and from the start all Waltham-Lowell ven¬ tures were heavily insured. As solidly financed as they were, not one of them could have afforded the loss of two-thirds of its capital. Choosing only the largest insurers, the Associates tended to divide their business among a limited group of companies—in particular the Merchants', the Manufacturers', the Firemen's, and the National. The same companies, in turn, regularly listed the largest number of Asso¬ ciates as directors. In a complex field it was important to keep track of the latest developments. A growing body of experience made it possi¬ ble for insurers to gauge risks with considerable precision and set rates accordingly. In time a system of slow-burning construction was developed for textile mills, which came into general use at places like Lowell. Initial costs were higher, but the savings in insurance premi¬ ums more than justified the added expense.4

Investment in insurance companies also proved quite profitable in some cases. The $200 Nathan Appleton put into the Merchants' In¬ surance Company in 1822 had grown—with the dividends used to purchase new shares—to $15,000 by 1850, and the following year the company paid what he described as a "whopping dividend of 15 percent." But the risks in insurance were high. Appleton lost money in several such ventures, and at his death his total insurance holdings amounted to only $67,740 at market value—less, even, than his in¬ vestment in banking.4

Still another way the Associates used the insurance business was as a source of loan capital for textile enterprises. The same eight Waltham-Lowell companies that came to rely so heavily on the com¬ mercial banks for short-term credit also borrowed from insurance companies for periods running from thirty days or less to over a year.4 But the frequency of such borrowing was never great. Other lenders were better equipped to operate in the field: commercial banks and, for intermediate-term credit, savings banks.

Organized as a way for the "working poor" to secure a portion of their earnings against the perils of modern economic life, savings banks accumulated substantial resources before the Civil War. The first savings bank in Massachusetts—the Provident Institution— received its charter in 1817 and by 1856 there were eighty-four in the state, with combined deposits of more than $27 million. Investing heavily in mortgages, the savings banks also lent money to larger, well-established industrial corporations, and because savings de¬ posits were more stable than those of commercial banks, such loans ran for relatively long periods. Of the loans contracted for over a year by the eight textile companies in the sample, savings banks accounted for more—39. percent—than any other type of institution.4 Among their other activities, too, various Associates routinely served on the boards of savings banks and so were in a position to influence their lending policies.

But individually the savings banks could only extend credit to the limit of their modest holdings. A far richer institution—and one in which the Associates played a much more prominent role—was the Massachusetts Hospital Life Insurance Company. In 1836 it had re¬ sources half again as large as the twenty-eight savings banks in the state combined. Over the next decade the savings banks pulled ahead in terms of total deposits, yet as compared to the

$10,681,000 con¬ trolled by thirty-eight of them together, the Massachusetts Hospital Life—alone—administered a fund of $7,703,000.4 And between 1845 and 1855 the company's loans to Waltham-Lowell ventures grew from $311,000 to $3,927,000, or very nearly half its total resources.4

The Massachusetts Hospital Life did not make its first loan to a Waltham-Lowell corporation until 1826. In the beginning the benefits envisioned had been of an altogether different sort. As John Lowell— the brother of Francis Cabot Lowell and one of the founders of the company—remarked in trying to convey some sense of its unique function: "It is eminently the Savings bank of the wealthy."49 Though obviously the kind of saving Lowell meant bore little resemblance to setting aside a few dollars each month to buy a home or educate a child, at bottom his description was accurate. Like a savings bank, the Massachusetts Hospital Life Insurance Company assumed as its pri¬ mary duty the preservation of the capital entrusted to it. But because the sums were large, they required rather special management. Also important in determining the company's character was the particular set of contingencies against which its depositors hoped to protect their money.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dalzell, Robert F., Jr. *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Robert F. Dalzell Jr., *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made* (Harvard University Press, 1987), 99–100.

Shortened citation:

Dalzell, *Enterprising Elite*, 99–100.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.17

Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic

Thomas H. Cox

SELECTION	enterprise, even under the authority of legislative sanction."78
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 165–166 · Supplied edition: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Court of the United States, against the right of States to grant monopolies on public highways." Furthermore, the paper stated, "the patent navigation of Boats and Stages, on Rivers and Roads, will no longer find themselves beyond the reach of fair competition, they will find themselves unable in the future to close the door of enterprise, even under the authority of legislative sanction."78 Although westerners had a long history of animosity to the monopoly, papers headquartered on the more remote parts of the frontier contained only scanty references to the Gibbons case. The Kentucky Reporter and the St. Louis Enquirer reprinted the entire Supreme Court decision but provided no editorial comment. The Kentucky Gazette noted briefly, "The Supreme Court of the United States has decided the case in which the rights of the state of New York to legislate over her own waters is involved. It is called the steam boat case; and it is decided against the right of the state to pass such laws."'? More conclusively, the Louisville Public Advertiser stated, "We not only believe the opinion of the Court to be correct, but we feel confident that, had the same case been tried by any competent tribunal not within the State of New York, the result would have been the same."®° The Missouri Republican noted that "some of the New Yorkers show themselves a little restive under the late decision of the U.S. Supreme Court on the subject of the steam boat monopoly." The editor then gloated, "They may rest assured that it is a decision approved of in their sister States, who can see no propriety in the claim of New York to domineer over the waters which form the means of intercourse between that State and others, and over the intercourse itself."*"

Gibbons v. Ogden met resistance from some quarters. Many New Yorkers held interests in the North River Steam Boat Company and vented their anger in the popular press. For instance, a New York Evening Post article warned that "in entire conformity with the decision at Washington, the Fulton grant, so far as relates to the cities of New York and Albany, and all intermediate ports or places on the

North River, is, we repeat, untouched, directly or indirectly, and no person can interfere with that grant, but at their peril."*? Another article complained, "Some of the rules of construction [in the Gibbons decision] appear to be inadmissible and dangerous, and the opinion appears to have been hastily drawn, and in language not very remarkable for delicacy or respect towards the claims and pretensions of this state."®? One critic even called for a verbatim account of the Gibbons decision to "judge whether the decree goes beyond the decision. This can hardly be supposed; but if it does it is certainly void."**

The Gibbons Decision and Popular Reaction tionality, the Gibbons decision, with its strong defense of federal commerce regulation, would antagonize states' rights interests. Although the article's author proclaimed respect for the High Court, he predicted such decisions would only lead to the consolidation of states' rights under federal supremacy. To prevent such a calamity, he urged that "the SENATE OF THE UNITED STATES SHOULD BE CONSTITUTED A COURT OF ERRORS AND APPEALS IN ALL QUESTIONS TOUCHING THE RIGHTS OF STATES; and that an amendment to the Constitution, to this effect, should be made forthwith."** To give the Senate an equal role in constitutional interpretation, the author suggested, would allow Congress to act in a manner similar to the New York Court of Errors, in which state supreme court justices and state senators combined to form a court of last appeal for controversial issues such as the steamboat monopoly.** This suggestion sparked an angry response from the New York Evening Post, which warned, "Whatever we do, for God's sake let us abstain from the damnable political heresy of blending judicial with legislative powers."

In an allusion to the partisanship of the court of errors, the article concluded that such a checkered history was "amply sufficient to deter every considerate man from listening for a moment to a proposition so largely pregnant with momentous mischief."8" Nor was such criticism limited to New York papers. Not surprisingly, the Richmond Enquirer took particular exception to Gibbons v. Ogden. One contributor commented on Marshall's statement in Gibbons that loose construction would leave the Constitution "a magnificent structure, indeed, to look at, but totally unfit to use." The critic responded, "And suppose we fly to the opposite extreme.... Suppose we stretch the power of the Government by a most liberal construction, suppose we consider 'necessary' to be synonymous with 'convenient,' what would be then the state of the case?" Under such circumstances, he continued, "the state Governments would moulder into ruins, upon which would rise up one powerful, gigantic and threatening edifice."
The author concluded, "To which of these extremes the steam of decisions from the Supreme Court is sweeping, we refer to the case of McCullough and the case of the Cohens."88 Despite dissenting opinions in certain quarters, Marshall's decision met with overwhelming support across the nation and seemed to put the complex issue of interstate commerce to rest. The Supreme Court had recovered from the bad publicity of its McCulloch and Cohens decisions. Marshall had successfully put the Court on the popular side in the debate over steam power and social progress.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cox, Thomas H. *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*. Athens: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Thomas H. Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic* (Ohio University Press, 2009), 165–166.

Shortened citation:

Cox, *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*, 165–166.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.18

Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819

Francis N. Stites

SELECTION	Private Interest & Public Gain
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 24–25 · Supplied edition: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Excerpt

1816 approached. The election brought Republican truth and light into every branch of the government save the judiciary, and that prob¬ lem did not seem difficult for it was the common practice of victorious parties to reform the judiciary. The Federalists had reformed it in 1813. It is difficult to assess the effect of the College quarrel on the election, but it certainly helped ele¬ vate the total votes cast to the second largest in New Hamp¬ shire history up to 18 16. 16 There is no difficulty assessing the election's effect on the College controversy; important changes resulted. The Wheelock-Octagon feud no longer excited pub¬ lic attention, which confirmed the Octagon's suspicions that the Republicans had used Wheelock's distress only so long as it promised Federalist defections. [17] The Republicans now frankly set out their position on Dart¬ mouth College. The Patriot no longer cried either for Whee¬ lock's restoration or for religious freedom. Hill now urged the new legislature to "correct the abuses at Dartmouth College,"

Author's Notes

17. With Republicans victorious, though not because of large Federal¬ ist defections, the Trustees believed Republican interest in Dartmouth College would end. Timothy Farrar to Francis Brown, April 8, 1816, DCA, 816258; Concord Gazette, April 2, 1816.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stites, Francis N. *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819*. Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Footnote citation:

Francis N. Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819* (University of Massachusetts Press, 1972), 24–25.

Shortened citation:

Stites, *Private Interest & Public Gain*, 24–25.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.19

John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland

Gerald Gunther, ed.

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 9–10 · Supplied edition: Stanford University Press, 1969.

Excerpt

Roane, rested on more than family ties: Roane not only was the most prominent judge on the highest Virginia court, but also led the Junto political machine. The Junto had a more disciplined following when it came to filling offices, from county judge to governor, than when unswervdiscourses were likely to carry more weight for coming from a theory. Indeed, Marshall's apprehension was justifiably greater just because theory predominated in the Enquirer essays, just because Amphictyon and Hampden eschewed the usual and easy route of rallying loud but merely temporary hostility to the Court from those injured by the immediate result. Virginia was not one of the states seeking to tax the Bank out of existence. The Junto leaders were not vehement Bank enemies j many, indeed, had close economic and personal ties with the Bank's Richmond the immediate threat less than Marshal feared^ bu^ their preo£cupation with the implications of the reasoning justified his long- v^ rangeconcern: it showed that they shared his sense of what was Q^hemeral and what was truly irnportant about McCuUoch. That the most intense criticism should emanate from Virginia was additional reason for Marshall to be apprehensive. His home resume its dominant role. Virginia's anti-Federalists—including

Patrick Henry, Spencer Roane's father-in-law—had led the fight *against John Marshall and his fellow supporters of the Constitions of 1798 and Madison's Committee Report of 1799, attacking the Alien and Sedition Acts as beyond congressional competence, had elaborated the case against broad construction and had turn of the century, the responsibilities of office exerted pressure toward nationalism and tempered the strict constructionist faith. Yet a strain of unreconstructed Republicanism had always persisted, even while most followers of Jefferson and Madison abandoned many constitutional scruples. John Randolph of Roanoke and John Taylor of Caroline personified that orthodox heritage. And Spencer Roane and the Richmond Enquirer were its most articulate spokesmen. They did indeed support Madison against the states' rights attacks of New England Federalists who found hated War of 18 12. But even then, when most old Republicans and most old Federalists managed to execute an ideological aboutface, Spencer Roane had refused to totally abandon the old creed.

cluded that the United States Supreme Court could not constitu-

Roane's loyalty to the Republicans in Washington was strong

[Martin for a year, to avoid giving undue aid and comfort to the jNew England secessionists planning the Hartford Convention.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gunther, Gerald, ed. *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Gerald Gunther, ed., *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland* (Stanford University Press, 1969), 9–10.

Shortened citation:

ed., *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland*, 9–10.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.20

Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic

Daniel Peart

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2014.

Excerpt

demarcate the legitimate methods by which citizens might engage in politics. Yet, too often these multiple and frequently contradictory meanings of democracy do not come across in the existing literature, which suggests a more linear, though by no means constant or uncontested, progression toward a "democratic" future defined by universal suffrage and a national two-party system. Democracy cannot be reduced to a simple count of who has the right to vote or how many choose to exercise that right at the ballot box.

And while today's scholars have talked of the "incomplete" nature of public life in the United States before the "birth" of a "modern politics" defined by mass parties, contemporaries, deprived of the advantage of hindsight, cannot possibly have conceived of their experiences in this manner.[26] This book, then, seeks to understand these early Americans on their own terms and in so doing to recapture a political world of extraordinary creativity and diversity, a world that in some respects has been lost to us through the routinization of a politics bounded by parties and elections.[27] Historians have tended to overlook the decade following the War of 1812 because it does not fit their orderly model of democratization, yet the huge variety in political thought and practice across the United States during this period is precisely what makes it so fascinating.

With this in mind, I propose to explore four moments of high political excitement, all of which occurred during the early 1820s, in a bid to understand why contemporaries, when faced with a particular challenge or set of circumstances, chose to pursue one course of action over the range of alternatives at their disposal. Crucially, whatever the specific issue in dispute, all of these episodes have important implications for the meaning of popular sovereignty. The principle that the people should rule is enshrined in the opening line of the United States Constitution, but how this would work in practice was far from settled at the Philadelphia Convention in 1787 and remains the subject of much discussion even today.[28] At the same time, each episode highlights a different aspect of political life in early nineteenth-century America: the fierce contest that raged over the role of parties in politics; the possibilities that existed for mass political mobilization in the absence of parties; the contribution to governance made by modes of organization and participation beyond parties and elections; and the critical events that shaped the development of a national two-party system.

Chapter 1 focuses on competition between the Federalist and Republican parties and popular resistance to that framework in Boston. There, parties dominated the political process to a degree almost without parallel elsewhere in the Union. At the same time, turnout rates remained persistently low; throughout the early 1820s as few as one in five citizens cast their ballots in elections for congressional representatives, and even the highly charged, ultrapartisan contests for the state governorship frequently failed to attract a majority of those who were eligible to the polls. Clearly the standard party-equals-participation model, which provides the foundation for the celebratory narrative, does not apply in this case. Yet while historians have sometimes debated the extent to which parties promoted genuine political engagement among their supporters, little doubt has been cast on their efficacy in marshaling votes on election day.[29] This study, then, offers an opportunity to consider the circumstances in which parties might actually serve to channel, control, and even curb mass participation in politics. Popular discontent with the established parties finally erupted in Boston in 1822 in the form of a protest movement calling itself the "Middling Interest."

These insurgents demanded the reform of party machinery to give rank-and-file members a greater say in the selection of candidates for office and called for those in power to be held accountable to their constituents. This was

undeniably a form of antipartisanship, but it was not one borne of the usual sources identified by historians, namely, a commitment to the increasingly outdated values of the Founding Fathers or an idealistic devotion to evangelical Protestantism.[30] The men who gave voice to the Middling Interest derived their convictions not from theoretical treatises or utopian sermons but from practical experience of party rule. And their solution was not to entirely reject party as a model for political action but rather to organize themselves as a third party, running their own tickets at the polls and borrowing extensively from the campaign tools of their opponents. The story of the Middling Interest illustrates that partisanship and antipartisanship cannot be reduced to a simply dichotomy and at the same time demonstrates the determination of ordinary Americans to fashion a political system that fulfilled their expectations of popular sovereignty.

As resentment toward parties boiled over in Boston, one thousand miles to the west residents of Illinois took pride in keeping their politics free from partisan interference. As chapter 2 reveals, however, this meant that when advocates of a scheme to legalize slavery in the state succeeded in forcing a

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peart, Daniel. *Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Peart, *Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic* (University of Virginia Press, 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Peart, *Era of Experimentation*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.21

A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic

Donald R. Kennon, ed.

SELECTION	"Conglomerate Rock"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 539–540 · Supplied edition: Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999.

Excerpt

The sharp relevance of passages like this in the History owed much to Adams's desire to move as far as possible into his subject to discover and think about what proved surprising there.

As he made drama by making the reader renew the uncertainties that once existed, he made ideas vital not by finding historical illustration of what he already knew but by coming across situations that confronted him with the need to puzzle out new questions. As war approached, for example, everyone knew money was needed and that Gallatin could no longer tell Congress and public "the cheerful story" that had made his financial management and good luck the steadiest mainstay of Republican popularity. He said straightforwardly duties and taxes would have to be raised, which was the "chief reproach." "History showed the financial charlatan to be popular, not so much because he was dishonest as because he gratified an instinct for gambling as deep as the instinct of selfishness; and a common notion of a financier was that of a man whose merit lay in the discovery of new sources of wealth, or in inventing means of borrowing without repayment." Few doubted what Gallatin said, and few would not have listened more enthusiastically to any charlatanism rather than his self-evident truth that no "device could relieve the public from taxing itself to pay for whatever the public chose to spend" (2:383-84). This democratic desire for economic delusion that Adams so sharply noted lives on through the crowning joke of the Laffer Curve, promising absolutely everything for absolutely everybody at absolutely no cost and remarkably achieving the doubling of two centuries' national debt every four years.

Adams's reflections on war remain equally haunting and pertinent. The question of war's relation to democratic and national character and survival threaded the History. The Republicans came to power opposed to military measures, as "a subject of dread, not so much because of possible defeat as of probable success" (1:1071). The people's freedom was somehow bound to disappear if a strong army and navy existed, as it was if a strong federal government developed. When the costs of the embargo became clear, Adams raised questions about the comparative moral expense of this peace policy with that of war. Adams stressed the huge costs of the latter, not only in terms of life but in the many ways "its reign of brute force and brutal methods corrupted and debauched society." Yet the embargo, falling especially hard on the poor, also "opened the sluice gates of social corruption." Too, while war "made men brutal, at least it made them strong" and "to die that others might more happily live was the highest act of self-sacrifice." It was less easy to see any positive contribution from a policy "which turned every citizen into an enemy of the laws,—preaching the fear of war and of self-sacrifice, making many smugglers and traitors, but not a single hero" (1:1118). At any rate, the policy's failure forced America toward recognition that "she must bear the common burdens of humanity, and fight with the weapons of other races in the same bloody arena." The nation's attempt to make "peace a passion" had proved no better than "the barbarous system which made war a duty" (1:1126).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kennon, Donald R., ed. *A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic.* Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Donald R. Kennon, ed., *A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic* (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999), 539–540.

Shortened citation:

ed., *A Republic for the Ages*, 539–540.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.22

The Era of Good Feelings

George Dangerfield

SELECTION	POSTSCRIPT: “AVE ATQUE VALE”
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 321–322 · Supplied edition: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Excerpt

James Monroe, like James Madison before him, had attempted to save his Republican name by the veto of an internal-improvements bill.“ On May 4,

1822, he had returned unsigned a bill bearing the title “An act for the preservation and repair of the Cumberland road.” His reasons were that Congress might appropriate money for the repair of the road, under its appropriation power, but that it could not establish turnpikes with gates and tolls, or enforce the collection of tolls by penalties, as the bill required, for that would imply “a complete right of jurisdiction and sovereignty for all the urposes of internal improvement,” and where in the Constitution was such a right to be found? ¢ No one doubted the importance of the Cumberland Road, which reached as far as Wheeling on the Ohio, though many people wondered how Congress had come to build it in the first place. The precedent was a dangerous one: it suggested an invasion of the states by the general government, armed with contracts and patronage, and all the panoply of consolidation. Monroe accompanied his veto message with an immense annex, which he had not submitted to his Cabinet; and which set forth the arguments for and against the powers of Congress in regard to internal improvements.

Those whose business it was to read this formidable document, entitled “Views of the President of the United States on the subject of Internal Improvements,” may well have come to the conclusion that if the veto message shut the door gently in the face of Congress, the “Views” as gently opened it again. Monroe admitted that he had altered his old beliefs. He was now convinced that Congress might grant and appropriate money for internal improvements, for “my idea is that Congress have an unlimited power to raise money, and that in its appropriation they have a discretionary power, restricted only by the duty to appropriate it to purposes of common defense and of general, not local, national, not State, benefit.” ® But who among the sons of men could tell the difference between general and local, national and state benefit? He added that the internal improvements themselves could not be executed by Congress, but only by local agencies.

And his expressed belief—and here he was in line with Old Republican thinking—was that the question could best be settled by Constitutional amendment.’,; The Western states, with no money to spare for their own improvements, may well have thought this the merest splitting of Constitutional hairs. Too much time and money was being spent on getting the fariners’ produce to market. A system of internal improvements, combined with a low tariff, might have moved the surplus cheaply to the ports and then sold some of it abroad. Combined with a high tariff, it offered only the industrialists’ promise of a home market. These considerations failed to disturb the farmers or their representatives in Congress; and the Tariff Act of 1824 had been preceded by a General Survey Act the evident purpose of which was to prepare the way for a program of appropriations for internal improvements on a national scale, and of subscriptions to the stock of companies engaged in these enterprises.’ Clay, who led the argument for internal improvements with all his skill and all his vigor, savagely attacked the Administration for its policies.

“A new world has come into being since the Constitution was adopted,” he said. “Are the narrow, limited necessities of the old thirteen states, of indeed, parts only of the old thirteen states, as they existed at the formation of the present Constitution forever to remain the rule of interpretations?” * But, indeed, it was Monroe’s “Views” which opened the way for the General Survey Act.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dangerfield, George. *The Era of Good Feelings*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Footnote citation:

George Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings* (Harcourt, Brace, 1952), 321–322.

Shortened citation:

Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings*, 321–322.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.23

Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	SPOILING INTERNAL IMPROVEMENTS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 183–184 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Excerpt

neous package of river and harbor improvements. Connecting the Ohio River with Lexington, Kentucky, and comprising (said its friends) a link in a great chain of north-south communications, the Maysville Road bill drew familiar objections from predictable sources. Thomas Foster of Georgia said the road was local, not national. Polk agreed and charged internal improvers with supporting all things indiscriminately. Traversing Henry Clay country, the Maysville Road naturally attracted partisan attacks, and these objections emanated mostly from well-known enemies of federal public works. Comfortable majorities passed the bill with little expectation that time was running out on the American System. Clay himself rejoiced at the news: after the loss of the Buffalo road, "some assertion of the power of Internal improvement... seemed necessary." Although there was talk that Jackson resented internal improvement, Secretary of State Martin Van Buren had urged the president to say nothing until a notoriously local bill came through and then shock Congress into submission.

Thus Clay and others were caught by surprise when Jackson struck down the Maysville Road.* Widely assumed to be the product of Van Buren's pen (Van Buren claimed as much in his Autobiography), Jackson's Maysville veto nevertheless contained _ vital clues about how Jackson understood the deteriorating political culture that surrounded him. Acknowledging a limited power in Congress to appropriate money for national roads and canals (but no power to construct them in the states), Jackson failed the Maysville project for being of a "purely local character." Further admitting the elusive nature of the distinction between local and national projects, Jackson suggested it was not "expedient" to continue with the present approach to internal improvements without first delimiting the system by means of a clarifying amendment. Behind this conviction lay a growing concern for the unequal impact and political turmoil surrounding public works as well as protective tariffs. Fixated on retrenchment and economy, Jackson hated appropriations that swelled the federal budget.

Unwilling to evaluate whole programs in light of each other (the American System idea), he insisted that each policy (the bank, tariffs, internal improvements) must operate fairly on all the states and pass the constitutional test on its own merits alone. All Americans, he thought, were "friends" of internal improvements, but "none certainly" were "so degenerate" as to prefer "their local interest to the principles of the Union." If so, the world had "but little to hope from the example of free government."® Taken at face value, Jackson's veto of the Maysville Road reflected legitimate doubts about the progress of internal improvements since the end of the Monroe administration. Whatever good it was doing, the American System was not producing harmony and political happiness. No plan or system of national works (called for in the General Survey Act) had ever been adopted by Congress, and the logrolling system that grew up in its place seemed capable of infinite expansion.

Appropriations did not flow equally to the states—could not do so if the object was to aid works of national significance, because such projects were not equally distributed among the twenty-four states. Efforts to balance the score inevitably exposed lawmakers to charges of pandering for votes; refusal to do so convicted them of partiality. Those who did not share Clay's satisfaction with the cumulative effect of all developmental policies found states' rights radicals eager to convert them to a neo-Antifederalist view of the Union. In the Maysville veto, Jackson seemed to be searching for an alternative national position, less consolidationist than Clay's American System yet less disintegrative than Calhoun's new doctrine of nullification. On its face Jackson's argument echoed Madison's

concerns in 1817: both presidents feared the corrupting implications of a scramble for funds in a national democratic legislature. The temptation for congressmen to gratify ever more numerous demands from their constituents seemed to Jackson virtually to guarantee overspending, requiring finally direct taxes to pay for extravagant internal improvements. Of course, nobody took Jackson's veto at face value: how could they? Political insult appeared to be its primary purpose.

The only project dear to Henry Clay's constituents had been deemed too local while other appropriations no less constricted found presidential favor. "The hand of the 'great magician' [Van Buren] was visible in every line," shouted William Stanbery when the House received the message. "There was nothing candid, nothing open, nothing honest in it." "From the stump" it was declared, cried Joseph Vance "that General Jackson was the firm, steady, and consistent friend of internal improvement." Davy Crocket claimed it drove him from the party: "I am still a Jackson man, but General Jackson is not; he has become a Van Buren man." Henry Clay, already deeply involved in the presidential contest for 1832, saw the veto as a major error by outof-touch Jacksonians. "We ought not to lose the advantages," Clay enthused, "which late acts of the admon [sic] have given to us." Campaigning happily on the integrated virtues of the American System, Clay accused Jackson of violating the people's trust and abdicating power in the face of angry minorities. Men who hated Clay or internal improvements heard the veto no less as a political manifesto. John Randolph reportedly toasted the news: "it falls upon the ears like the music of other days." Philip Barbour, still Virginia's leading neo-Antifederalist in Congress, praised the veto as destroying a system that could only end in "deep disgust on one side" and "corruption on the other." "How much, then, do we owe to him, who averts this gangrene from our body politic?"*? In December 1830 Jackson enlarged the scope of his discretionary negative and expanded his comments on how the government should function. "The successful operation of the federal system can only be preserved," he proclaimed, "by confining it to the few and simple... objects for which it was designed." Therefore, he intended to resist any doubtful exercise of power. (The first two victims were stock subscriptions to chartered corporations and certain lighthouse

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States* (University of North Carolina Press, 2001), 183–184.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *Internal Improvement*, 183–184.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.24

The Presidency of James Monroe

Noble E. Cunningham Jr.

SELECTION	The New President and a New Congress
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 46–47 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

In this progress, which the rights of nature demand and nothing can prevent, marking a growth rapid and gigantic, it is our duty to make new efforts for the preservation, improvement, and civilization of the native inhabitants. The hunter state can exist only in the vast unculti vated desert. It yields to the more dense and compact form and greater force of civilized population; and of right it ought to yield, for the earth was given to mankind to support the greatest number of which it is capable, and no tribe or people have a right to withhold from the wants of others more than is necessary for their own support and comfort.[16]

In recommending to Congress that in its Indian policy more provisions be made for "their improvement in the arts of civilized life," Monroe re flected the prevailing wisdom that Indians could survive only by adapt ing to the white man's culture.

Referring to the public lands that were becoming available as Indian titles were surrendered in treaty agreements, Monroe expressed a strong opinion that "the public lands are a public stock, which ought to be disposed of to the best advantage for the nation. The nation should therefore derive the profit proceeding from the continual rise in their value." He believed that if "great capitalists" had the opportunity of amassing vast tracts of land at low prices, "the profit will accrue to them and not to the public." While proposing no specific plan, he urged that in making provisions for the sale of public lands, Congress do so with a view to the public interest.[17]

As he extolled the vast territory of the United States, Monroe turned to the subject of internal improvements and stressed the many advantages afforded by good roads and canals and the need for their construction. On the controversial issue of the constitutional power of Congress to construct a system of roads and canals, however, the presi dent announced the "settled conviction in my mind that Congress do not possess the right. It is not contained in any of the specified powers granted to Congress, nor can I consider it incidental to or a necessary means." He recommended to Congress the submission of a constitu tional amendment that would confer the explicit power to build roads and canals. Monroe also suggested another amendment that would em power Congress to institute "seminaries of learning, for the all-impor tant purpose of diffusing knowledge among our fellow-citizens throughout the United States."18

Of all the subjects touched on in his address, Monroe's announce ment concerning taxes attracted the most interest. Even before the pres ident's message arrived, word had circulated among members of Con gress that the cabinet had agreed to recommend the repeal of all internal taxes, which included licenses to distillers and retailers, taxes on refined sugars, sales at auction, carriages, and stamped vellum, parchment, and paper.[19] After Monroe's address was delivered to the House, Congressman Hugh Nelson remarked, "If not popular in any other sense, it will be so from recommending a repeal of the internal taxes."20 But former Federalist senator Jeremiah Mason of New Hamp shire said the recommendation was "what I least expected and dislike most.... This is the only tax which tends to an equalization of bur dens between the sea-board and interior states."21

Members of Congress had been anxious to hear Monroe's position on internal improvements since it was not known whether the new president would depart from his predecessor on the controversial ques tion. The issue was particularly lively because Madison, on his last day in office, had vetoed a bill to appropriate money to construct roads and canals from the funds obtained from granting the charter to the second Bank of the United States.[22] Although President Madison had reversed his earlier opposition to the first Bank of the United States as unconsti tutional and signed the act chartering the second national bank, he re jected congressional authority to build roads

and canals on the same constitutional grounds employed by Monroe in his message. Congress man Nelson, who supported Monroe's stand, thought the president had "gratuitously tendered his opinion" on the power of Congress re garding internal improvements but had done so in "a gracious candid manner that can excite no unpleasant feelings." Yet Nelson believed that Monroe could expect opposition from some members and that the advocates of internal improvements in Congress would try to carry a new measure "with an overwhelming constitutional majority."23

Two weeks after publishing the text of Monroe's message to Con gress in his Weekly Register, Hezekiah Niles observed that "every one of the quill-driving family of editors seems to feel it his right and duty to of fer some remarks on the annual messages of the president," and he proceeded to offer his own review. In analyzing the "very plain and very interesting communication," Niles found the greatest fault with the president's reference to the nation's profitable and extensive com merce. While admitting that it was augmenting federal revenue, he in sisted that commerce was not as profitable or extensive as it should be. "It is very certain that our commerce is not flourishing," he wrote, argu ing that a considerable part of the nation's trade was in foreign hands.

Author's Notes

16. Ibid., pp. 151-52, 156.

17. Ibid., pp. 153-54.

19. James J. Wilson to William Darlington, Senate Chamber, Dec. 1, 1817, William Darlington Papers, LC; Annals of Congress, 15 Cong., 1 Sess., pp. 2505-

22. Robert Allen Rutland, The Presidency of James Madison (Lawrence: Uni versity Press of Kansas, 1990), pp. 205-6.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cunningham, Noble E., Jr. *The Presidency of James Monroe*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Noble E. Cunningham Jr., *The Presidency of James Monroe* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 46–47.

Shortened citation:

Cunningham, *The Presidency of James Monroe*, 46–47.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.25

The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression

Andrew H. Browning

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: University of Missouri Press, 2019.

Excerpt

Two hundred years ago, the United States was stunned by the Panic of 1819— the first great depression, and of all the critical events in American history perhaps the least known and least appreciated. It introduced the American people to the pattern of boom and bust that has since become known as the business cycle; it was the first of the series of financial crashes and economic depressions (called "panics" in the nineteenth century) that have since recurred at regular intervals. It is no exaggeration to say that the Panic of 1819 changed the country profoundly, in ways that go well beyond the world of finance. Nevertheless, it was quickly forgotten as the country was once again swept up in what Hezekiah Niles, publisher of Niles' Weekly Register, called "the almost universal ambition to get forward." With little understanding of its causes, the country failed to learn its lessons and in less than twenty years plunged into the Panic of 1837.

The bubble of prosperity that led up to the Panic of 1819 also introduced elements of modern life that we can hardly imagine doing without: easily available consumer credit, real estate purchases with low down payments, a corner bank in every good-sized town, investment in the stock of corporations, and even the New York Stock Exchange itself, which opened in 1817. The ensuing panic gave the country its first experience of nationwide waves of bankruptcies, business failures, foreclosures, and unemployment; it began two centuries of condemning the poor as lazy, immoral, and self-indulgent—a disdain that would be directed at "Okies" in the 1930s and "welfare queens" in the 1980s. It inaugurated the endless debate over government regulation of business—essentially nonexistent until then—as well as the debate over free trade versus protectionism. It helped launch the mass-participation politics within which those debates and many others have taken place.

At the end of 1818 Southern cotton—the nation's most valuable export by far—lost half of its value almost overnight; in thirty key industries in Philadelphia, three-quarters of the workers lost their jobs and the rest were paid one-fifth of what they had been; one-half of the real estate in Cincinnati wound up in the possession of the Bank of the United States; and the Bank employed Henry Clay to sue hundreds of debtors (including a United States senator) as well as the State of Ohio.

In 1819 the Supreme Court rescued the hated Bank from state attempts to tax it out of their jurisdictions: Chief Justice John Marshall's dramatic assertion of federal authority in McCulloch v. Maryland struck a blow at the heart of states' rights and strict construction of the Constitution. An anti- slavery movement in Congress had, at that very moment, precipitated a crisis by blocking Missouri's admission to the Union as a slave state. The fears of land speculators from Alabama to Missouri, the desperation of cotton planters who saw their survival threatened, and the resentment directed toward the Bank—now combined with distrust of the "overreaching" federal government—had much to do with the deep sectional divisions that followed, alienating West from East and South from North.

To speak of the "Panic of 1819"—a term not used until decades later— is to imply, misleadingly, a single, discrete event confined to a single year. There was no "Black Tuesday" in 1819. The country's financial institutions were not yet centered in one city, and communication was slow; Charleston learned at the end of January that English cotton mills had dropped their prices at the end of November, but word would not reach Mississippi or Alabama for several more weeks. The so-called panics of the nineteenth century—1837, 1857, 1873, 1893—were all multiyear economic phenomena, and the Panic of 1819 arguably began in 1815 as a regional depression in eastern commercial cities and mill towns, spreading down the Ohio River in 1816 and 1817; it evolved into a banking crisis in 1818 and became a full-blown national depression with the collapse of cotton prices in 1819 and a tide of business failures and

bankruptcies that left no region unscathed. The sudden end of the western land boom left millions of dollars in unpaid debts, and hard times lingered in the South and West well into the mid-1820s.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Browning, Andrew H. *The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression*. Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2019.

Footnote citation:

Andrew H. Browning, *The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression* (University of Missouri Press, 2019), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Browning, *The Panic of 1819*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.26

The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race

Donald J. Ratcliffe

SELECTION	Popular Battlegrounds
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Excerpt

Overall, Adams won the popular vote, with a plurality of 1,541 votes to 1,272 for Jackson and 1,047 for Clay, winning significant support from among the state's Southern majority. However, Adams piled up his lead in the first district, with 1,063 votes compared to 630 for the ambiguous James Turney, 343 for the Clayite, and 109 for Jackson's two candidates. In both the other districts, Jackson won the plurality, with Clay second in one and Adams in the other. Jackson thus won two of the three electoral votes even though he gained only 27 percent of the popular vote compared to Adams's 32 percent. Did Adams do so well because of the preceding dispute over slavery in the state? Apparently no newspaper or presidential advocate, including supporters of Adams, made any connection publicly between the two contests. Yet all the identifiable Adams men who had taken a public stance on the convention question had opposed slavery, whereas very few of his opponents had. The first district covered most of the middle counties that in the previous two years had, it is thought, received an accelerated immigration of nonslaveholders from North and South and had certainly voted heavily against the convention. The district's Adams vote depended on considerably more than Yankee settlers, since it also included Madison County, across the Mississippi from St. Louis, a richly endowed, rapidly growing, highly populated, farming county in Illinois's American Bottom which contained relatively few slaves; though Southern settled, the county gave a large majority against the convention and almost half its votes to Adams. The popular vote for the Northern candidate in Illinois undoubtedly correlated with a raised antislavery awareness, and the extraordinary efforts of the anticonvention forces deserve credit for the creation of an Adams constituency.

The slavery dispute also had an adverse effect on the Clay campaign. Initially the argument in Illinois had been between federal officeholders who backed Crawford and Calhounites associated with Ninian Edwards, Calhoun's brother-in-law. Then the slavery issue had divided the factions in 1824, and differences on federal issues focused on the reelection of the antislavery congressman Daniel Cook in August. By the time the slavery issue had been decided and Clay could think of establishing a campaign in Illinois, his thunder as the Western candidate was already being stolen by Jackson. Instead, an effort was made in the press to eat into Adams's support by presenting Clay as "the friend of universal freedom in all nations and all colors, and a strenuous friend for the gradual... amelioration of the condition of the unfortunate blacks in our country." While Clay's vote was divided between the three districts, Jackson did best in the most southerly counties of the state, which fortuitously straddled two electoral districts.

There was no possibility of Adams attracting as much popular support in the adjacent slave states. In Missouri frontier politics were dominated by conflicting land interests between French claimants under Spanish law and new American claimants. Here too the presidential contest transcended older divisions because of the strong Kentuckian influence, the interest in internal improvements, and "the obligations" that Clay's "exertions [in the trials of statehood] have imposed on Missouri." Even the state's senatorial pomposity, Thomas Hart Benton, gave up his initial favorite, Crawford, to help engineer an early legislative nomination for Clay and devoted the summers of 1823 and 1824 to stumping the state for him. "This state," wrote an Adams editor on the eve of the election, "is betrothed to Clay," though Adams did find some vocal support in populous and ethnically diverse St. Louis—especially in the city center and among wealthy merchants from both older factions—and in affluent Cape Girardeau. Clay won by a landslide two of the state's three electoral districts, those up the Mississippi and Missouri valleys, and gained a plurality in the third. Overall, Jackson attracted one-third of the popular vote, doing well in some sparsely populated

western counties and running Clay close (with 317 votes to Clay's 327) in the swampy country of southeastern Missouri.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ratcliffe, Donald J. *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Donald J. Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race* (University Press of Kansas, 2015), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.27

The Era of Good Feelings

George Dangerfield

SELECTION	FINALE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 421–422 · Supplied edition: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Excerpt

Jackson always supported and which Adams disliked but would never have been able to overthrow. The question was, in whose favor was this economy to be modified? And to what extent?

The question could not be answered under the one-party system; and from the ferment of the late 1820's, which was an instinctive and delirious effort to find an answer, there emerged two parties—the National Republicans and the Jacksonian Democrats—which at least promised that the question might be debated.® The need for a debate was critical, as Jackson afterwards discovered when he was confronted with disunion in South Carolina; when he found himself obliged to veto a bill for improving the road from Maysville to Lexington; when he fought his great battle with the Bank of the United States. By "debate" one means the continual effort of American democracy to settle economic differences without recourse—in Jackson's day to tyranny, in ours to totalitarianism. Jackson's methods of debating were in themselves debatable; and no one would suggest that he settled the crisis he was called upon to face, for the crisis would emerge, in different shapes and circumstances, as long as liberal capitalism survived. But he placed himself squarely upon the side of the small property-holder—"'the planter, the farmer, the mechanic and the laborer...
the bone and sinew of the country, men who love liberty and desire nothing but equal rights and equal laws"—and he did so in part because he had retained a Jeffersonian belief in the freedom and dignity of the individual, the uncommonness of the common man.' From the simple and personal relations of his time to the complex and impersonal ones of ours is a long and difficult journey; and Jeffersonian beliefs have found the battle for survival progressively more difficult. Moreover, what had Jackson to offer us but an example? History never repeats itself; what is gone is gone: and if history teaches anything, it is that we invariably disregard what it has to teach. In Jefferson's election in 1800 and Jackson's in 1828 we observe the emergence of a great leader in a time of crisis, who founded his leadership on a respect for liberty and democracy; and we would say the same thing of Lincoln, Wilson, and Franklin Roosevelt.
But these great men do not necessarily represent some American continuum; they are illustrations, not proofs; analogies, not precedents; and we have reason to hope but no reason to asswme that an analogous leadership will always be found when it is needed. The choice has always to be made, and it is never the same choice. Jackson offers an example because he and his followers championed certain liberal "freedoms" that are still recognizable— that is to say, are analogous to the ones we ourselves profess. Whether the future will have any use for such freedoms is uncertain, but contemporary experience suggests that a future without them will hardly be worth living in.

As the nation moved towards the election of 1828, it seemed to be wrapt in anticipation. The Era of Good Feelings was mortally smitten by the Panic of 1819; it was probably buried by the Missouri debates; and its obsequies were recited by John Taylor of Caroline. It was succeeded (one might say) by the Era of Suspense. Neither period was very kind to the creative mind, for the personal myth was still ensnared in politics. Utopias came and went: Robert Owen's New Harmony was submerged by the acquisitive frontier, as if the jungle had been let into it; Frances Wright's Nashoba succumbed to the very slave atmosphere it had sought to dispel. The imagination hibernated. In architecture, it is true, the dawn of the romantic movement already stirred among facades and roofs; but architecture still offered mainly curlosities—such as the head office of the United States Bank in Philadelphia, which was an exact replica of the Parthenon, a union of finance and chastity more fascinating than persuasive. Painters painted portraits. The most forceful writers divided their energies between political philosophy and political polemics.

Even Washington Irving's remarkable observation was becoming filmy and insipid. But the transition from the Era of Good Feelings to the Era of Suspense is suggested in two novels by an unabashed romantic—T he Spy (1821) and The Pilot (1823) by James Fenimore Cooper. Both were products of the postwar nationalism of the Era of Good Feelings; and in both the nationalist figures—George Washington and John Paul Jones—are, as it were, veiled. Both move about in disguise. Cooper's purpose was no more than to compose two patriotic romances, but American writers who, like Cooper, made no effort to evaluate the social forces of their time often produced symbols that did this work for them. Cooper was na, Melville; but Cooper at least interpreted the prevailing nationalism of the 1820's. Everybody believed that the nation was destined to be great (John Taylor of Caroline, perhaps, would have said that it was destined only to be big); but who was to profit by this greatness? American destiny was obscure, until some leader could arise who would restore its features.

Cooper's own and obvious answer can be found, no doubt, in The Prairie (1827), a novel about life beyond the Mississippi, in a land which Cooper had never seen, and which he filled with stereotypes—superhuman scouts, benevolent and reflective pioneers, and Indians who were either noble savages (if they were on our side) or red devils (if they were not). Cooper himself despised the real frontier—the frontier of raw settlements and shiftless settlers; for he was nothing if not a country squire.*? But the massive amount of misinformation The Prairie conveyed is as nothing when compared to its misty revelation of the agrarian ideal. As long as the frontier advanced into unknown or half-known country, then even land-speculation, however gross and extortionate, became simply the mechanics of surmise; and the nation of independent property-holders and of equal rights was always a remote possibility, all the more alluring because it was remote. Calhoun, who predicted social revolution in the North, never seemed to have realized that this mysterious and hopeful frontier, the very symbol of surmise, was itself the antidote to revolution.?? But Calhoun was a sternly logical agrarian: no one has ever suggested that he was a romantic one. was said, made an attempt at writing poetry, "Whereas," and never tried again.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dangerfield, George. *The Era of Good Feelings*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Footnote citation:

George Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings* (Harcourt, Brace, 1952), 421–422.

Shortened citation:

Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings*, 421–422.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.28

The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821

Glover Moore

SELECTION	THE MISSOURI CONTROVERSY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 126–127 · Supplied edition: University of Kentucky Press, 1953.

Excerpt

Most of the Southern press and politicians were not yet ready to regard slavery as a blessing in 1820, though the ad¬ dresses of Smith and Pinckney foreshadowed the proslavery argument of 1830-1860.

The political significance of the Missouri bill was apparent in congressional oratory. Like the first debate, the second one disclosed the fact that it was, in part, a struggle for political power between the North and South. This involved both the balance of power in the Senate and the three-fifths ratio.

When the Constitution was framed, there had been seven Northern and, counting Delaware, six Southern states. At the time the Tallmadge amendment was introduced, there were eleven free and ten slaveholding states, but the admission of Alabama in 1819 gave each section eleven states. Although the desire to maintain a balance of power between the North and South can be traced back to the Continental Congress, it was greatly intensified by the Missouri Controversy. When it be¬ came evident that only the Senate was preventing congressional action against Missouri slavery, the South evinced a great determination to maintain an equilibrium in the Senate, while the North was eager to win back the majority it had lost with the admission of Alabama.

According to Representative John Holmes, Southern con¬ gressmen were saying to the North: “We have yet a hope in the Senate of the United States—We will not let go this hope by adding another nonslaveholding state which will give you the preponderance and enable Congress to let loose our slaves to cut our throats.” Holmes concluded that “The House there¬ fore will not let in Missouri and the Senate will not let in a nonslaveholding state without a counterbalance.” Rufus King complained that Missouri’s admission as a slave state would overturn the balance in favor of the South, and former Senator Lacock of Pennsylvania observed that “the possession of the western domain by either the one or the other [slave or free states] is expected to give them a lasting ascendancy in the government.” “It is political power that the northern folks are in pursuit of,” wrote former Senator Tait of Alabama, who expressed a hope that the South and West “united, with a division of the North, may still keep the power with us.” John Quincy Adams aptly remarked that the political power motive operated about equally on both sides.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Moore, Glover. *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821*. Lexington: University of Kentucky Press, 1953.

Footnote citation:

Glover Moore, *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821* (University of Kentucky Press, 1953), 126–127.

Shortened citation:

Moore, *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821*, 126–127.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.29

The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	Panic! 2008, Déja vu 'All over Again
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 177–178 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

before the opéra bouffe of September 25 and 26: "This crisis should put an end to false debates about government versus markets. Governments create markets, and markets can exist only with regulation. If you want to be truly free of regulation, try Haiti or Somalia. The real trick is to craft good regulations that allow markets to work well."?[o] Verified by history a hundred times, Zakaria's point was so compelling, how could anyone doubt it? And yet we found ourselves locked in a bizarre situation where the titans of American capitalism were trying desperately to stop "the people" from slitting the throat of the capitalist system on which those people utterly depend. Andrew Jackson, your war against the Monster Bank endures! It was true in the antebellum era, as it is true at the beginning of the twenty-first century, that the enemies of government, not just the friends of private business, helped shackle the public hand in modern market systems.

In the absence of state regulations, of course, markets will structure interactions in a capitalist system; but actual capitalists always have recognized the need for rules and institutions to guide and referee competitive behavior. Entrepreneurs seek freedom only when it serves their interests. During the original market revolution in America, the public welfare often was challenged by freedom-loving entrepreneurs; yet it was not the Whigs (ostensibly the party of the capitalist class) but the Jackson Democrats who canonized the doctrine of laissez-faire. Perfecting their appeal to the voters by promising never to impinge on their freedom, Jacksonians made war upon governance itself and set up a deceptive contest for power in which private rights and economic interests appeared to be the same when clearly they were not. Convinced by ideology that governance was unnecessary, a people empowered by their Revolution to set the agenda and govern themselves on behalf of the common good chose instead to dismantle the state. In the resulting vacuum, America's nineteenth-century entrepreneurs understandably wrote their own rules and imposed order to suit their comfort and convenience. Their objectives were more pragmatic than ideological. Living as they did in a real, not fictitious, universe, businesspeople tended to be more flexible in adjusting to changing conditions in the market and society around them. Libertarian ideologues, on the other hand, ensconced in academic departments, on the benches of the judiciary, and at the offices of political campaign machines, found the lure of theoretical models irresistible — intellectually rewarding because of their elegance, and, in the case of popular political campaigns, profoundly effective. In the American historical experience, politicians since Jackson have achieved phenomenal success by denouncing the complexities of governance and exciting latent fears that somebody else might use government to gain the upper hand. The threat of corruption may well have been legitimate, but the promise that disabling government would keep people from harm was then — and is now — simply untrue. Furthermore, nothing proved more useful for concealing an unholy alliance between governors and special interests than a cloak of indignation sewn up with the rhetoric of freedom and private rights.

The success of this Jacksonian formula has left us a political culture in the United States, perhaps unique in the industrialized world, where candidates advocating workers' rights and social welfare programs collect a following among elites and the educated middle class only to be thrashed at the polls by the desperate masses who oppose all efforts to regulate business or tax the rich on their own behalf. Given the choice, of course, even honest entrepreneurs prefer minimal government as long as they can get the regulations they require by less conspicuous means; but at times, this cynical strategy has left business dangerously exposed to the short-sighted animosities of persons in

power who do not understand the systems on which their prosperity depends. In short, wealthy capitalists routinely pursue their economic interests, but the common people remain enthralled by politicians conjuring imaginary threats to their basic personal freedoms. This is not a logical phenomenon but a historical tradition deeply rooted in the market revolution and the popular politics of the age of Jackson.

The tradition reflects badly on reckless capitalists but even more damningly on political adventurers who would rather inflame the illinformed mob than exercise the stewardship of power and resources that voters placed in their hands. What the Panic of 2008 demonstrates clearly is that the problems of the market revolution, which so preoccupied Americans in the early nineteenth century, remain central features of modernization at the start of the twenty-first. Americans long since have made peace with their abject dependency on a complex, consumer-driven, capitalistic market

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good* (Cambridge University Press, 2009), 177–178.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *The Market Revolution in America*, 177–178.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.30

Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821

John R. Van Atta

SELECTION	passe
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 71–72 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

emancipation notwithstanding, most northern whites of the time would never accept blacks as their equals."

Apart from Yankee complicity with slave owners and their own unmistakable racism, northerners could still look upon the growth of their regions, their towns and cities, and their range of economic pursuits with a pride of accomplishment that matched, if it did not exceed, that of the South. With the onset of the Panic of 1819, one might expect small employers and disappointed workers to forsake their faith in the emerging market economy and embrace more radical, class-conscious alternatives like the later workingmen's parties, but most did not. The earlier taste of prosperous times and fortunes in the making, along with whatever advantages of opportunity and character some had—better education, temperance, evangelical faith, or just a run of luck—fortified the belief of many northern laborers that their day would come and, at all events, their individual freedom to seek work for wages elevated them. A host of northern moralists, like Mordecai Noah in New York's National Advocate, interpreted the financial panic as punishment for straying from an earlier, agricultural, and localized economy.

For that matter, one could find latter-day Calvinists who still saw any crisis, including the Missouri one, as signaling God's wrath. But economic nationalists, like Mathew Carey in Philadelphia, Hezekiah Niles in Baltimore, and Clay in Congress, countered these rustic lamentations with a more forward-looking agenda. Subsistence-level agriculture, however "virtuous," did nothing to expand markets. Besides, too many Americans tilled the land already, whether on scattered small farms or sprawling plantations. A comprehensive freelabor economy required much more. "A nation of pure agriculturalists cannot be numerous," Niles had instructed in 1817, "unless there are lords and peasants, masters and slaves." Better to pursue a government-encouraged program of home manufactures, aided by road and canal development, to protect American producers from foreign competition—the growth schema that began as President Madison's postwar economic "platform" of 1815 and would continue as Clay's "American System" in years to come."[o] Still, if sectional pride mushroomed as much in the North as in the South, so did economic pressure to compromise on Missouri in spite of growing antislavery pressure not to.

Devotion to the Union resonated heavily in the North, as well as in much of the South and West, as did belief in the limiting of federal government power, hence the cross-sectional strength of the ern antislavery nationalists, Carey, for one, acknowledged that Congress possessed the constitutional right to impose restrictions on both territories and new states, but to exhaust so much time debating the Missouri issue only distracted from more urgent matters in a time of economic and sectional crisis. "The great questions regarding the manufactures, the bankrupt system, and the public lands," he would complain, remained unsettled when Congress adjourned in 1819. The economic welfare of the Union as a whole ought to supersede this kind of sectional wrangling. Regarding protective tariffs, for example, Carey asked, "What measures in support of the commerce and manufactures of the eastern and middle states could be expected from the southern members, when they saw no disposition on the part of the former to make reciprocal concessions, and supposed their own peculiar interests neglected?"

The worst scenarios foretold either dissolution of the Union over the slavery question or, nearly as threatening, an independent Missouri positioned to command navigation of the Missouri River."

"I Can Only Say, Let It Come!"

Some congressmen saw nothing much to debate. Missouri was not Illinois. Slavery had never been outlawed there. No territory legitimately open to slavery had ever been denied statehood on its own terms. Even if Congress could

prescribe details of government for a new state, other than it be "republican" in form, that power would be "nugatory," said Henry Clay. Once admitted to the Union, any state had the unquestioned right to amend its constitution and govern itself as its people saw fit. Certainly he wanted to soothe southern congressmen who now felt betrayed by their northern brethren, but he also knew that the Constitution protected slaveholders. At stake for him were the votes in Congress needed to pass further protective tariffs and internal improvements bills that economic-nationalist Republicans wanted. Many of them would rather accept slavery, and even fit it within the American System, than make an issue of it now."

On the second day of the debate, Monday, February 15, 1819, the rhetoric intensified, northerners mostly sidestepping the question of state sovereignty in favor of a loftier moral vision for expansion. The way this Missouri question would be resolved, cried Tallmadge's fellow New Yorker John W. Taylor, would "decide the destiny of millions" who would in years to come fill fron-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Van Atta, John R. *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

John R. Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015), 71–72.

Shortened citation:

Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears*, 71–72.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.31

The Panic of 1819: Reactions and Policies

Murray N. Rothbard

SELECTION	The Panic and Its Genesis: Fluctuations in American Business, 1815–21
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 17–18 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1962.

Excerpt

On the one hand, the boom, the crisis of 1818-19, and the depression until 1821 present many features akin to modern business cycles as interpreted by Mitchell. Although banking had previously been undeveloped, this period saw a rapid expansion of banks and bank money—unsound as much of the expansion may have been. The period also saw much of the typical characteristics of later financial panics: expansion of bank notes; followed by a specie drain from the banks both abroad and at home; and finally a crisis with a contraction of bank notes, runs on banks, and bank failures. A corollary to the contraction of loans and bank runs was the scramble for a cash position and rapid rise in interest rates during the panic. The diversity of bank notes and bank activity from section to section was hardly a modern characteristic, but there was an approach to uniformity in expansion and contraction because of the existence of the Bank of the United States. As in modern business cycles, the entire contraction and expansion cycle was fairly short-lived, totaling five or six years, and the period of crisis itself a short one. Furthermore, the sequence of phases was boom, crisis, depression, and revival as in the business cycle.

Other modern characteristics were: the expansion of credit and of investment projects during the boom; the appearance of urban unemployment; and the marked expansion and contraction in prices.

On the other hand, there were many backward features of the economy that go counter to an interpretation of the period as a modern business cycle in the Mitchellian sense or the Panic of 1819 as a modern business crisis. Despite the growth of commerce, it was still true that the overwhelming preponderance of economic activity in that period was in agriculture. It has been estimated that 72 percent of the labor force in 1820 was engaged in agriculture.

Although statistics are not available, it seems from contemporary comments that urban construction increased in the boom and declined in the crisis. Physical agricultural production is not too responsive to cycles, however, and agricultural production represents overwhelmingly the greatest part of productive activity during this period.[7]® Thus, physical production of cotton, rice, wheat, and flour continued to grow during the depression period. Certainly farm employment is not a markedly cyclical phenomenon. Furthermore, many farm households were self-sufficient, and carried on only local barter trade, or entered the monetary nexus occasionally. With such a prevalence of home sufficiency and barter conditions, the economy could hardly be classified as modern, or conditions the same as a modern business cycle.

Furthermore, the manufacturing and business enterprises that did exist were mainly small-scale. Modern business cycles are most characteristic in the sphere of large-scale business enterprises and large-scale manufacturing. Conditions in this period were quite the opposite. Small shops, small banks, small factories comprised the enterprises of the day. Rather than a sharp distinction existing between employers and numerous laboring employees, most workers, as we have indicated above, were craftsmen, who worked either in very small-scale firms or as independent businessmen, with not much marked differentiation. Such were the blacksmiths, shoemakers, tailors, printers, carpenters. More in the category of employees were sailors and unskilled road and canal workers.

Author's Notes

7. Albert B. Moore, History of Alabama (Chicago: American Historical Society, 1927), I, 159-60. NOTES: APPENDIX A

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothbard, Murray N. *The Panic of 1819: Reactions and Policies*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1962.

Footnote citation:

Murray N. Rothbard, *The Panic of 1819: Reactions and Policies* (Columbia University Press, 1962), 17–18.

Shortened citation:

Rothbard, *The Panic of 1819*, 17–18.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.32

The Presidency of James Monroe

Noble E. Cunningham Jr.

SELECTION	The Missouri Compromise
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 102–103 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

Monroe, however, did not send this letter to Roane but instead di rected Hay to give it to him. The letter arrived in Richmond on February 17, the day on which the adjourned nominating caucus was to recon vene. By this time, Roane had already written to the president express ing his opinion "fully and strongly" against any compromise, and a copy of his letter was circulating in Richmond.[48] Hay thus immediately returned Monroe's letter, rejoicing that the president had sent it to him rather than to Roane. "In the present state of things, the effect of such a communication, indicating hesitation or doubt, would be fatal," he wrote. "I have never said how you would act, but simply that you would do your duty. The members have gone up to the Caucus under a conviction that you will put your veto on this infamous cabal and in trigue in all its forms and shapes. This I would certainly and promptly do. You may be injured in the N. and E. States, but you will be amply repaid in the gratitude and affection of the South."49

Thus the Virginia caucus met with an expectation that Monroe would veto any bill to restrict slavery in Missouri but with no further as surances. None of his letters to Hay or others had promised either a veto or approval of a compromise restricting slavery in the territories. As the caucus convened on February 17, it was not yet known in Richmond that on the sixteenth the Senate had passed the Thomas amendment. Hay reported the outcome of the meeting to Monroe in a brief para graph, giving few particulars but stating that all had gone well. The re volt against Monroe in Virginia had been contained.

Before Hay's letter reached Washington, the Senate passed a bill on February 18 to admit both Maine and Missouri and attached the Thomas amendment, but the House responded by rejecting all Senate amendments and passing its own Missouri bill with restrictions. "I have never known a question so menacing to the tranquility and even the continuance of our Union as the present one," Monroe wrote to Jeffer son on February 19.[51] A conference committee was subsequently ap pointed to break the deadlock between the two houses. On March 2, John Holmes of Massachusetts presented to the House a conference re port that proposed the admission of Maine and Missouri without re strictions and the exclusion forever of slavery in that part of the Louisi ana Purchase north of 36°30' not included in the state of Missouri. By votes taken separately on the different parts of the report, the Missouri Compromise passed the House of Representatives on March 2. The cru cial and closest vote was on the recommendation to strike the provision to prohibit slavery in Missouri, which passed by a vote of 90 to 87. Once the House accepted the compromise, the Senate agreed to the settle ment. By an act of March 3, 1820, Maine, which prohibited slavery, was admitted as a state; and an act of March 6 authorized the people of Mis souri to draw up a constitution and form a state government without any restriction on slavery.[52]

On March 3, Monroe summoned his cabinet to its first meeting on the Missouri question since the controversy arose. Monroe had pur posely established sectional representation in his cabinet, and he was fully aware that his advisers differed on the issue of slavery. He well knew John Quincy Adams's opposition to slavery and understood Smith Thompson's silence. Before signing the bills to admit Maine and to enable Missouri to draft a constitution, Monroe asked the members of his cabinet for their opinions on two questions: (1) whether Congress had a constitutional right to prohibit slavery in a territory, and (2) whether the section in the Missouri bill interdicting slavery forever in the territory north of 36°30' was applicable only to a territorial state or remained in force after statehood. The president said that he wanted their individual opinions in writing to be deposited in the Department of State.[53]

According to the account of the cabinet meeting recorded by John Quincy Adams, there was unanimous agreement that Congress had the power to prohibit slavery in the territories. Considerable discussion took place over the second

question, with Adams arguing forcefully that the prohibition extended to statehood. When it was evident that a consen sus could not be reached, Calhoun suggested that the second question be restated to ask whether the section of the bill relating to the terri tories was consistent with the Constitution. Monroe readily agreed, and all members could now answer affirmatively, without appending any explanations or qualifications.[54]

Author's Notes

48. Roane to Monroe, Feb. 16, 1820, "Letters of Spencer Roane," Bulletin of the New York Public Library 10 (1906): 174-75; Hay to Monroe, Feb. 17,1820, Mon roe Papers, LC.

51. Monroe to Jefferson, Feb. 19, 1820, in Hamilton, ed., Monroe Writings, 6:116.

52. Moore, Missouri Controversy, 88-90, 99-103; Annals of Congress, 16 Cong., 1 Sess., pp. 1572, 1586-88; Adams, Diary, Mar. 2, 1820, 4:3.

53. Adams, Diary, Mar. 3, 1820, 5:5; Monroe to Adams, Mar. 4, 1820, Ad ams Family Papers, MHS, microfilm edition, reel 449.

54. Adams, Diary, Mar. 3, 1820, 5:6-9; Adams to Monroe, Mar. 4, 1820, in Worthington C. Ford, ed.. Writings of John Quincy Adams, 7 vols. (New York: Macmillan, 1913-1917), 7:1-2.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cunningham, Noble E., Jr. *The Presidency of James Monroe*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Noble E. Cunningham Jr., *The Presidency of James Monroe* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 102–103.

Shortened citation:

Cunningham, *The Presidency of James Monroe*, 102–103.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.33

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	SLAVERY, COMPROMISE, AND DEMOCRATIC POLITICS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 235–236 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

Still, responsibility for opening Missouri to slavery cannot be placed solely or chiefly on the Van Buren Bucktails, let alone on northern acquiescence. North ern support for nonrestriction and compromise in 1820 came from a small, mot ley group from various states, Federalists as well as Republicans. The great majority of New York Republicans, including Bucktails as well as Clintonians, voted for restriction in 1820. Only one of the northern representatives who voted for restriction in 1819 voted against it a year later. Compared to the southerners' close vote endorsing the Thomas amendment, the northern vote against slavery in Missouri—a division of 87 to 14—was unyielding.

Unfortunately for Clay and the compromisers, die-hard antislavery northern ers and the pro-slavery citizens of Missouri proved less malleable than the House of Representatives. Over the late winter and spring of 1820, Federalist and Republican restrictionists in Pennsylvania and Ohio—joined by a radical Irish immigrant editor in Washington, Baptist Irvine —urged northern congressmen to reject the compromise by refusing to approve Missouri's new constitution when Congress reassembled. Then the Missourians, faced with the seemingly straight forward task of writing a pro-slavery state constitution in compliance with the statehood bill, gratuitously inserted a clause requiring the new state government to enact legislation that barred "free negroes and mulattoes" from entering the state. An apparent violation of the U.S. Constitution's guarantee that the rights of citizens in any state would be respected by all states, the clause deeply offended northerners, who proclaimed that the compromise was now dead. Compound ing the difficulty, Clay had retired as Speaker, prefatory to retiring from the House, and was succeeded (after a lengthy sectional struggle) by John W. Taylor. By the time Clay arrived in Washington in January 1821 for what he had hoped would be a brief second session, the House was in chaos. While northerners declared that Missouri was still a territory, southerners insisted that Missouri was now a state and that no additional conditions could be attached to its admission.

The making of the so-called second Missouri Compromise was even more convoluted than the making of the first—and it demanded even more of Clay. The Senate adopted a resolution accepting the Missouri constitution with a pro viso that withheld congressional consent to "any provision" that contravened Article IV, Section 2 of the Constitution. Revived restrictionist House Republi cans, however, defeated a resolution admitting Missouri —only to fail to pass a subsequent resolution, offered by Republican William Eustis of Massachusetts, that would have struck the offensive clause from the Missouri constitution. Like punch-drunk brawlers, the contestants threw rhetorical haymakers at each other for weeks to come, in one wild round after another, each side standing its ground, neither side able to put the other away. Clay, now working through a chastened Speaker Taylor, did his best to stack committees, undermine the southern hotheads and northern hotheads alike, and cajole a compromise out of the House. Finally, in late February, a joint House and Senate committee, headed by Clay, hammered out the wording of a resolution admitting Missouri provided that the state legislature solemnly pledge not to pass any law in viola tion of the U.S. Constitution. By a six-vote margin, the House assented; two days later the Senate approved the measure; and on August 10, 1821, President Mon roe officially proclaimed that Missouri was the Union's twenty-first state. "I was exhausted," Clay later recalled, "and I am perfectly satisfied that I could not have borne three weeks more of such excitement and exertion.""

It has been said that had the Civil War broken out over the Missouri contro versy, it would have amounted to a brawl on the floors of Congress, with the rest of the nation looking on perplexed. Certainly by 1821, the nation, in its second

year of unprecedented hard times, welcomed the end of the congressional quar reling over slaver)7 and the preservation of the Union. So did virtually all of the major figures who would dominate national politics over the coming two decades: Henry Clay, John C. Calhoun, John Tyler, William Crawford, John Quincy Adams, Nicholas Biddle, Martin Van Buren, and Andrew Jackson, all of whom either helped achieve the compromise or supported it with varying degrees of enthusiasm. Divided over other important issues —especially the ques tions of banking and economic development raised by the Panic of 1819 —they would prove effective at keeping the slavery issue out of national debates, at least until the early 1830s.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 235–236.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 235–236.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.34

Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds.

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

Other cap i tal ist nations have a substantial head start searching for the place of slavery in their specifi c developmental paths. More than seventy years ago, the Afro- Caribbean intellectual Eric Williams advanced one of the most power ful— though often ignored— arguments in modern historiography, namely, that the story of British economic development was inextricably linked to West Indian slavery. First, profi ts derived from slave- grown sugar and the transatlantic slave trade underwrote the Industrial Revolution that gave Eng land the world's fi rst modern economy. Only once this new manufacturing regime had taken hold and profi ts from slavery appeared less certain in comparison did British abolition of the slave trade become eco nom ically viable and ideologically useful. Williams's Capitalism and Slavery has structured an ongoing and contentious debate over the relationship of slavery's profi ts to the rise of industrial capitalism and the timing of abolition.[6] Williams's British story is often universalized to assert that nothing new remains to be discovered about slavery's centrality to American capitalism, a perception perhaps enhanced by the enduring richness of scholarship on slavery and the British Empire, as exemplifi ed by Sidney Mintz's Sweetness and Power, Joseph E. Inikori's Africans and the Industrial Revolution in Eng land, Nicholas Draper's Th e Price of Emancipation, and most recently Catherine Hall's Legacies of British Slave- owner ship: Colonial Slavery and the Formation of Victorian Britain.[7]

While the relationship of slavery to British economic development has generated a robust scholarship, research on slavery's importance to American capitalism has been episodic: Philip Foner's 1941 account of New York merchants' deep ties to the cotton trade, a brief mention of the value of North- South trade in Douglass C. North's 1961 volume of economic history, Barrington Moore's reference of the importance of slave- grown cotton to American capitalism, James Oakes's 1982 argument for slaveholders as robust devotees of liberal conceptions of private property, John Ashworth's 1995 effort to link slave re sis tance in the South to middle- class sensibility in the North, Adrienne Davis's power ful naming of slavery's "sexual po liti cal economy" of coerced reproduction, and Robin Einhorn's 2006 study of slavery as foundational to the American love of low taxes off er select examples of empirical work that embeds slavery in U.S. economic development. Only over the last twenty years could one assem ble a convincing bibliography, running from Ronald Bailey's survey of the "slave(ry) trade" to David Waldstreicher's account of Benjamin Franklin's extensive entanglements with bound labor.[8]

Yet many of the most basic facts about the role of slavery in American economic development remain unknown. To explain the relative inattentiveness of American history as told over much of the last century would take a volume unto itself, grappling with the legacies of a Jim Crow regime of white supremacy that excluded black Americans from the national story and access to the institutional means of changing it and of a Cold War that required touting the superiority of Amer i ca's " free enterprise" system and its indivisible link to democracy, and with a neoliberal economic ideology in the pres ent that presumes markets will inevitably maximize human freedom rather than constrain (and commodify) it. Th e per sis tent erasure of slavery from American history and memory is precisely why new research on slavery's importance for American capitalism is worthy of media coverage, as evidenced by the publicity given to recent books, such as Greg Grandin's Empire of Necessity, Sven Beckert's Empire of Cotton, and Edward Baptist's Th e Half Has Never Been Told.[9]

Author's Notes

6. Eric Williams, Capitalism and Slavery (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1944); Barbara L. Solow and Stanley L. Engerman, eds., British Capitalism and Ca rib bean Slavery: Th e Legacy of Eric Williams (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1987); Cedric J. Robinson, "Capitalism, Slavery, and Bourgeois Historiography," History Workshop Journal 23 (Spring 1987): 122–40; Heather Cateau and S. H. H. Carrington, eds., Capitalism and Slavery Fifty Years Later: Eric Eustace Williams— a Reassessment of the Man and His Work (New York: Peter Lang, 2000); Christopher Leslie Brown, Moral Capital: Foundations of British Abolitionism (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press for the Omohundro Institute of Early American History and Culture, 2006); David Ryden, West Indian Slavery and British Abolition, 1783–1807 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009); Seymour Drescher, Econocide: British Slavery in the Era of Abolition, 2nd ed. (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2010); Barbara L. Solow, reply by David Brion Davis, "Th e British and the Slave Trade," New York Review of Books, January 12, 2012. See also William Darity, Jr., "British Industry and the West Indies Plantations," Social Science History 14 (Spring 1990): 117–49; Darity, "From the Dissertation to Capitalism and Slavery: Did Williams' Abolition Th esis Change?," in Eric Williams, Th e Economic Aspect of the Abolition of the West Indian Slave Trade and Slavery, ed. Dale Tomich (Lanham, Md.: Rowman and Littlefi eld, 2014), xi– xxiv.

7. Sidney Mintz, Sweetness and Power: Th e Place of Sugar in Modern History (New York: Viking, 1985); Joseph E. Inikori, Africans and the Industrial Revolution in Eng land: A Study in International Trade and Economic Development (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2002); Nicholas Draper, Th e Price of Emancipation: Slave- Owner ship, Compensation and British Society at the End of Slavery (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2010); Catherine Hall, Nicholas Draper, Keith McClelland, Katie Donington, and Rachel Lang, Legacies of British Slave- Owner ship: Colonial Slavery and the Formation of Victorian Britain (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2014). One recent if little noticed eff ort to tell the broadest story of American economic development through slavery is Gene Dattel, Cotton and Race in the Making of Amer i ca: Th e Human Costs of Economic Power (Chicago: Ivan R. Dee, 2009). Contributors Edward E. Baptist is Professor of History at Cornell University and author of Th e Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism (2014), which won the 2015 Hillman Prize for Book Journalism. Sven Beckert is Laird Bell Professor of History at Harvard University and currently a Visiting Professor of Business Administration at Harvard Business School. He is the author of Th e Monied Metropolis: New York City and the Consolidation of the American Bourgeoisie (2001) and Empire of Cotton: A Global History (2014), which won the Bancroft Prize and was a fi nalist for the Pulitzer Prize in History. Daina Ramey Berry is Associate Professor of History and African and African Diaspora Studies at the University of Texas, Austin. She is the author of Swing the Sickle for the Harvest Is Ripe: Gender and Slavery in Antebellum Georgia (2007) and Th e Price for Th eir Pound of Flesh (2017). Kathryn Boodry is Visiting Assistant Professor of History at the University of Oregon. She was a Schwartz Postdoctoral Fellow at the New York Historical Society in 2014 and served as Director of Th e American Proj ect at the Rothschild Archive, London. Alfred L. Brophy is the Judge John Parker Distinguished Professor of Law at the University of North Carolina, Chapel Hill. His books include Reconstructing the Dreamland (2002) and Reparations Pro and Con (2006). Stephen Chambers received his Ph.D. in history from Brown University. He is the author of No God But Gain: Th e Untold Story of Cuban Slavery, the Monroe Doctrine, and the Making of the United States (2015).

8. Philip S. Foner, Business & Slavery: Th e New York Merchants and the Irrepressible Confl ict (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1941); Douglass C. North, Th e Economic Growth of the United States, 1790–1860 (Englewood Cliff s, N.J.: Prentice-Hall, 1961); Barrington Moore, Social Origins of Dictatorship and Democracy: Lord and Peasant in the Making of the Modern World (Boston: Beacon Press, 1966), 116; James Oakes, Th e Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders (New York: Knopf, 1982); John Ashworth, Slavery, Capitalism, and Politics in the Antebellum Republic, vol. 1 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995); Adrienne Davis, " ' Don't Let Nobody Bother Yo' Princi ple': Th e Sexual Economy of American Slavery," in Sister Circle: Black Women and Work, ed. Sharon Harley and the Black Women and Work Collective (New Brunswick, N.J.: Rutgers University Press, 2002), 103–27; Robin L. Einhorn, American Taxation, American Slavery (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2006); Ronald Bailey, "Th e Slave(ry) Trade and the Development of Capitalism in the United States: Th e Textile Industry in New Eng land," Social Science History 14 (Fall 1990): 373–414; David Waldstreicher, Runaway Amer i ca: Benjamin Franklin, Slavery, and the American Revolution (New York: Hill and Wang, 2004). Th e most recent addition is Calvin Schermerhorn, Th e Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815–1860 (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2015). For a historiographical overview, see Seth Rockman, "Th e Unfree Origins of American Capitalism," in Th e Economy of Early Amer i ca: Historical Perspectives and New Directions, ed. Cathy Matson (University Park: Pennsylvania State University Press, 2006), 335–61.

9. Th e intense cyberspace reaction to the Economist's dismissive review of Baptist's book in the fall of 2014 brought slavery's importance to capitalism before readers of Salon, Politico, Jacobin, and the New York Times: "Blood Cotton," Economist, September 6, 2014; Baptist, "What the Economist doesn't get about Slavery— and My Book," Politico, September 7, 2014, http:// www. politico. com / magazine / story / 2014 / 09 / economist - review - slavery - 110687 _ full. html; Ellora Derenoncourt, "Th e Slaver's Objectivity," Jacobin, September 10, 2014, https:// www. jacobinmag. com / 2014 / 09 / the - slavers - objectivity /; Felicia R. Lee, "Harvesting Cotton- Field Capitalism," New York Times, October 4, 2014; Michael Schulson, " 'It's Symbolic Annihilation of History, and It's Done for a Purpose. It Really Enforces White Supremacy': Edward Baptist on the Lies We Tell about Slavery," Salon, November 9, 2014, http:// www. salon. com / 2014 / 11 / 09 / it's _ symbolic _ annihilation _ of _ history _ and _ it's _ done _ for _ a _ purpose _ it _ really _ enforces _ white _ supremacy _ edward _ baptist _ on _ the _ lies _ we _ tell _ about _ slavery /; Beckert,

"How Cotton Remade the World," Politico, January 30, 2015, http:// www. politico. com / magazine / story / 2015 / 01 / civil - war - cotton - capitalism - 114776. html#. VcDlSIuCiwI; Beckert, "Slavery and Capitalism," Chronicle of Higher Education, December 12, 2014; Beckert, "Amer i ca's First Big Business? Not the Railroads, But Slavery," PBS Newshour, February 12, 2015, http:// www. pbs. org / newshour / making - sense / americas - fi rst - big - business - railroads - slavery /; Beckert, "How the West Got Rich and Modern Capitalism Was Born," PBS Newshour, February 13, 2015, http:// www. pbs. org / newshour / making - sense / west - got - rich - modern - capitalism - born /; Greg Grandin, "Capitalism and Slavery," Nation, May 1, 2015, http:// www. thenation. com / article / capitalism - and - slavery /.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven, and Seth Rockman, eds. *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds., *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Slavery's Capitalism*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.35

Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic

Daniel Peart

SELECTION	onclusion
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2014.

Excerpt

part, found favor with historians. Where Adams saw peace and harmony, they see indifference and apathy. The overarching celebratory narrative of U.S. politics between the Revolution and the Civil War identifies political parties as the driving agents of democratization, and since partisan competition waned during the early 1820s, subscribers to this interpretation assume, most citizens must simply have lost interest in politics. But the episodes explored in the previous chapters have shown the so-called Era of No Feelings to be a myth. Although election turnout did fall in some states, many Americans continued to participate in political life with unconcealed enthusiasm and extraordinary creativity. Their experiences suggest the potential for rethinking several components of the celebratory narrative. As numerous scholars have shown, political parties played an important role in stimulating and maintaining unprecedented levels of election turnout in the early United States. It does not follow from this, however, that the presence of two-party competition was alone enough to ensure popular engagement. In Massachusetts, conflict between Federalist and Republican parties continued to dominate public life into the early 1820s, as it had for two decades previously.

Yet this highly organized and hotly contested environment failed to produce high rates of participation at the polls. Instead, it spawned the Middling Interest, a protest movement born of the conviction that despite near-universal adult male suffrage the people were denied a real political voice. The established parties, these rebels argued, controlled the electoral process in Boston from beginning to end and exercised that control in the 1822 mayoral contest to frustrate the popular will. Likewise, the dispute over wooden buildings demonstrated party leaders' disregard for efforts to make them accountable to their constituents through the practice of instruction. Viewed from this contemporary perspective, parties were hardly the agents of democracy that they are often portrayed to have been today.[2] Taking a broader view, newly available data suggest that throughout the Union from 1820 to 1825 election turnout was strongest where parties were weakest. Of course, this classification is somewhat arbitrary. The unprecedented 80 percent turnout in the Illinois convention referendum of 1824 was the product of a contest that, though conducted in the absence of established parties, assumed many of the characteristics commonly associated with a two-party system: intense competition, sustained organization, and "binary symmetry" on the question at stake.[3] Yet the four-way gubernatorial race of 1822, in which candidates openly boasted of their lack of organizational backing and offered no consistent response to a confusing melee of issues, had still brought 67 percent of the electorate to the polls, a figure that compares favorably with the turnouts for party-driven contests in Delaware, Massachusetts, and New York that same year. Over in Kentucky, consecutive turnouts of 70 percent plus in 1820 and 1824 may be attributed to competition between distinct "Relief" and "Anti-Relief" groupings generated by the Panic of 1819, but it is worth noting that these were achieved without any of the formal party machinery common in the eastern states.

In Alabama and Mississippi, meanwhile, similar rates of participation were achieved in the absence of any discernible form of political organization.[4] Such cases once again illustrate the diversity of political practices during this period, but the overall trend is sufficiently clear to suggest that Massachusetts was not the only state in which entrenched political parties had a dampening effect on participation in elections during the early 1820s. This pattern reflects a widespread disillusionment with the disintegrating Federalist-Republican system following the War of 1812. "A continuation of party names, of democrats and federalists, after the differences in principles which they were used to designate, has ceased to exist, is injurious to the best interests of the community," concluded a meeting

of Philadelphians in 1822.[5] Party leaders are "indifferent" to the concerns of the people "provided their friends and favorites are kept in power," echoed a newspaper correspondent in Boston.[6] It was attitudes like these to which John C. Calhoun referred when he commented to John Quincy Adams on the existence of "a general mass of disaffection to the Government."

"The disease is apparent, the remedy not discernible," the secretary of state concurred.[7] For some citizens the remedy was simply to withdraw from politics entirely, which explains why participation rates in contests where candidates continued to do battle under old party labels, whether as Federalists versus Republicans or as factions within a dominant Republican Party, were generally lower than in those unregulated by partisan organization. Competition between parties does bring voters to the polls, as the celebratory narrative suggests, but only when the electorate is convinced that something meaningful is at stake; in the absence of important issues, the reliance of party leaders on tired slogans and stagemanaged conventions is likely to depress, rather than raise, turnout.[8] Many Americans, however, did not abandon politics during the early

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peart, Daniel. *Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Peart, *Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic* (University of Virginia Press, 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Peart, *Era of Experimentation*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.36

Martin Van Buren and the American Political System

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	New York Politician 1782-1821
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 95–96 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

The Regency revolutionized American politics, not only by creating a new type of political machine, but also by popularizing a new theory of political parties. In the eighteenth century Americans had disapproved of political parties because they believed that parties, or factions as they were called, were led by selfish men interested only in their own personal welfare. According to the founding fathers the ideal society was one in which unity and harmony prevailed. If parties existed, there must be something wrong with society. James Madison in Federalist Number 10 and George Washington in his Farewell Address agreed on what Washington called "the baneful effects of the Spirit of Party." Little wonder that Americans in the 1790s were alarmed when Federalists and Republicans demonstrated that the spirit of party was flourishing. One reason for the collapse of the two-party system during the Era of Good Feelings was the belief that these early parties had been harmful to the new republic.

The Regency changed all that by developing a new political theory, a theory that considered parties a positive good rather than a menace to society. According to the doctrine, political parties were democratic organizations that enabled the people to take part in government. More than that, political parties protected the state against selfish individuals by subordinating the individual to the will of the party. Van Buren summed up the theory in his autobiography: "All men of sense know," he said, "that political parties are inseparable from free governments," that the "disposition to abuse power... can by no other means be more effectually checked." Silas Wright best expressed the ideal of the loyal party man; he intended, he said, to "live up to what [he understood] to be the course of a political party man." He wanted nothing that would not serve "the best interests of the great republican party [of New York]."

The Regency's new theory of party was premised on a new concept of society—one based not on consensus but on unavoidable conflict. In such a society, said the Argus, with so many different "interests," parties provided the essential "bond of national union." Without them "there would arise local jealousies and geographical distinctions, which would array the north against the south," and destroy "the integrity of the republic." Moreover, said the Argus, parties checked "the passions, the ambition, and the usurpations of individuals."

Inspired by this new vision of party the members of the Regency talked openly about their political aspirations. When Van Buren left New York in 1821, his ambition was to restore "the old democratic party." Some years later William L. Marcy made the classic statement on partisan politics by boasting that the Regency saw "nothing wrong in the rule, that to the victor belong the spoils of the enemy." Van Buren devoted several of his waning years to writing his own Inquiry into the Origin and Course of Political Parties in the United States. And when Nathaniel Beverley Tucker wrote his anti-Van Buren novel in 1836, Tucker called it The Partisan Leader. Van Buren and the Regency had become synonymous with partisanship and political parties.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984), 95–96.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*, 95–96.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.37

The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race

Donald J. Ratcliffe

SELECTION	The Virginia Candidate
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Excerpt

In recent times it has been easy for historians to assume that a congressional caucus could now have little influence because the First Party System had collapsed long before 1824. Leading politicians of the time knew otherwise; even the Federalist Rufus King recognized "the Reluctance [of voters] to vote ag[ainst] the regular nomination." The Philadelphia publicist Mathew Carey disapproved of old party ties but acknowledged in October 1822, "Although it might puzzle sensible men of all sections to explain the present meaning of party words—the charm remains, and some men of sense, as well as blockheads, believe it is unsafe to vote independently of party." In August 1823 Crawford was authoritatively assured by Governor William King of strong support among the people of Maine, but he must not count on it unless he won the nomination. "If there is a caucus, and... if [you are] successful, they may be counted upon in the electoral vote." Others told him that he could scarcely win 2,000 votes in Pennsylvania on his own account, but with a congressional nomination he could well carry the state. The Pittsburgh congressman Henry Baldwin was eager to promote Jackson early in 1823, but apparently he was warned off on the grounds that the people of Pennsylvania might like Jackson but they also obeyed congressional nominations, and Jackson could not win in caucus.

The confidence of party regulars arose from everyday observation. Voter loyalty patently persisted in places where the old party contest continued at the state and local levels, as in New England. In New Hampshire, for example, Federalists continued to elect members to the House of Representatives and contested state senate and council elections in districts where they had some chance of electing their candidates. Rhode Island's legislative elections saw close party competition between 1821 and 1823. Most strikingly, in Massachusetts the Federalists had been revitalized by the departure of heavily Republican Maine. Between 1820 and 1824 gubernatorial elections ranged Federalists against Republicans, with each party concentrating on a single candidate in closely competitive contests, with few scattering votes. According to one outside observer in 1823, "In old Massachusetts, the old party distinctions are still alive and were, perhaps, never adhered to with more zeal than at present."

South of New England, the great states of New York and Pennsylvania were marked by complex internal political alignments caused by factional divisions among the Republican majority. Yet in each the Federalists remained a separately identifiable force: in New York they were themselves internally divided, but in the Philadelphia area they acted as a distinctive voting bloc. Contests in these two states took on more of a party character after 1820 than they had a few years earlier. By contrast, elections to the New Jersey general assembly tended to reflect a breakdown of party discipline, but in some counties in 1823 two party tickets faced off, attracting fairly consistent ticket voting on both sides. In the Border states, candidates for Maryland's governorship were identified by party in both 1821 and 1824, though only the Republicans managed to concentrate their votes on a single man. In Delaware gubernatorial elections were fought on strict two-party lines in 1822 and 1823, as were the county elections for the state house of representatives in 1824, when the Federalists as a party yet again won control of both legislature and governorship. Further South, the overwhelming dominance of the Republican Party ensured that internal state politics would be riven by factions, but in parts of Virginia congressional elections were still fought on old party lines, even in 1824.

Throughout the middle region—from New York to Maryland, and west to Ohio—delegate conventions continued to be held at the local and district level, ostensibly as a means of choosing candidates who were acceptable to the party's grass roots. In New York City, for example, the Democrats routinely assembled in ward meetings to choose the

committee that would nominate the county's candidates for the assembly. In 1823 regular party men credited such "concert in action" through the various counties with securing "the triumph of the democratic party" in New York. They bragged that "this state and the state of Pennsylvania are united in favour of the old and regular systems of the party, and who shall oppose this united power?"

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ratcliffe, Donald J. *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Donald J. Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race* (University Press of Kansas, 2015), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.38

The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois

Gerald Leonard

SELECTION	nois and the nation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 268–269 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

For Van Buren, the most dramatic and damning result of this development was Dred Scott. It is not that Van Buren was particularly progressive on racial matters. He actually endorsed, although with reservations, Taney's holding that African-Americans could not be citizens within the meaning of Article III of the Constitution. Rather, Van Buren complained that this Jacksonian Court had reached beyond that holding to settle a question not before the Court. In the true Federalist fashion that even the most democratically pedigreed judges ultimately found irresistible, Taney claimed judicial supremacy over the nation's constitutional politics. Not satisfied with merely disposing of cases, he and his majority asserted the Court's authority over the constitutionality of the Missouri Compromise, even though that question was now unnecessary to disposition of the case. For Van Buren, this question, like all constitutional questions, belonged preeminently in politics where the sovereign majority might authoritatively dispose of it. Among the party's grand achievements had been the scotching of the notion, trumpeted in the days of the Alien and Sedition Acts and McCulloch v. Maryland, that "it belongs to the judicial power to decide upon [the] constitutionality" of laws while only "their expediency" lay with Congress. But Scott had revived that doctrine. Delivered by a Democratic Court and held out as the last word on the Constitution by a Democratic president, the case represented the dreaded triumph of Federalist consolidationism within the Democratic party itself.

Moreover, this ruling was not the temporary lapse that Van Buren insisted it must be. Rather, Scott signalled the end of any operative role for Van Burenite constitutionalism. Van Buren understood, of course, that the old Democratic party had been thoroughly disrupted by the sectional crisis. He did not, however, understand that the reconstruction of party politics as a "party system"—the demise of "the democracy" before a politics of special interests in party coalitions—was permanent. Nor could he have foreseen Scott's ultimately successful implanting of "substantive due process" into the federal judicial system as the natural, anti-democratic complement to the rise of merely factional parties. Today, Dred Scott is universally condemned, but it is also remembered as the first federal example of that doctrine of broad judicial review, warmly embraced by many who otherwise revile the case. Modern Americans thus often see Scott as an aberrational start to an otherwise salutary doctrinal line. Had Van Buren lived to see a later Supreme Court invalidating state laws on the basis of the Due Process Clause, however, he would have seen those Court offensives as the legitimate heirs of Scott's own consolidationism. And he would have seen federal judicial ascendancy over state legislative power as the natural complement to a politics now dominated by a persistent two-party competition—maybe he would have called it the "twofaction system"—in which his Democrats actually became for a time the minority party before the consolidationist Republicans. The ironies would have been painful. Using the constitutional theory of popular sovereignty, he had built a magnificent new institution, the party of the sovereign democracy that had restored the confederated Constitution after McCulloch. Yet the party politics yielded by that reform only brought a fundamentally different institution and a contrary constitutional theory—the "two-party system" of mere interest-group management and subconstitutional policy negotiation, linked to judicial supremacy in constitutional interpretation.

In the climax of the sectional crisis, the Democratic party was decisively stripped of its original justification as its organized opposition parties were stripped of theirs. A single party could not embody democracy in itself, yet no

retreat was possible from a politics of organized mass parties. As succeeding generations of Americans would discover, a system of mass parties in routinized competition on substantive questions could embody a sort of unwritten constitution that most Americans would come to call "democracy." If the 1850s hardly marked the end of antipartyism in America, then, it is nevertheless true that little remained of James Madison's "Constitution against parties" in the wake of Martin Van Buren's constitutional reform and its legacy.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Leonard, Gerald. *The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Gerald Leonard, *The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), 268–269.

Shortened citation:

Leonard, *The Invention of Party Politics*, 268–269.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.39

"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic

Jeffrey L. Pasley

SELECTION	Newspapers and Nineteenth-Century Politics
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 17–18 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 2001.

Excerpt

Calhoun's national ambitions, actually took concrete action toward the professionalization of partisan editing. Green deplored the fact that too many editors* considered "themselves as mere printers," and hoped to upgrade the status and remuneration of editors to the point that it could attract "the first talents of the country." In 1834 he founded the Washington Institute, a school in which apprentice printers could study spelling, grammar, history, and philosophy, among other elevating subjects, while learning their trade by putting out Green's newspaper. The Washington printers' union, the Columbia Typographical Society, denounced the insan journalism after only a year. Most partisan editors were perfectly com-

Looking back on the underinstitutionalized party systems of the nineteenth century, Max Weber conceptualized well the former role of party strong political clubs or elaborate, permanent, formal party organizations, Weber wrote, the "management of politics in normal times lies in the hands of the few people constantly interested in it." Before the American Civil War, those few people were usually party newspapermen. "Only the

Leaving aside the more questionable notion that party systems have a "natural" course of development, the period from the late eighteenth to the late nineteenth century does seem to have formed a distinct epoch in American political history, a period in which the party system was newspaper based. Partisan newspapers and loosely organized parties (aided by tution, the newspaper-based party, which dominated the American political scene in the antebellum years, remained strong in the late nineteenth century, and did not disappear completely until the twentieth century. This manner of conducting party politics lingered especially in less-developed areas: small cities and towns, the South, the rural Midwest The rest of this study describes how and why this new institution, tween the 1760s and the 1830s, while also considering the larger implications of its rise. One of the most important themes to be followed is the role of newspaper politics and newspaper editors in democratizing American political life. Democratization is a complex topic that recent scholars have been sur-

[57] The older story of democratization, holdprisingly averse to exploring. ing that the elections of 1800 and 1828 heralded the rise of Jeffersonian Democracy and then Jacksonian Democracy, finally ushering in a midnineteenth-century Age of the Common Man, became untenable many years ago. As numerous recent scholars have argued, there were simply too democracy and equality for white men almost seems to have required re-

Even the idea that universal white male suffrage and high voter turnouts amounted to truly 'participatory democracy" for white men has come un-

The recent criticisms follow decades of debunking aimed at the idea of Jacksonian Democracy or any real "rise of the common man." While acticipation, scholars derided the notion that any meaningful democratiza-

Hofstadter, Lee Benson, Edward Pessen, and many others, no major party least of all the Jacksonian Democrats, nor did the common man's interests was merely cynical window dressing for personal enrichment or political preferment, flattery of the common man issuing from the mouths of men who were usually much more than common themselves. Sean Wilentz great revision of Jacksonian politics": "On close examination, the leading Jacksonians were shown to be not champions of deprived workers and great wealth or men eager to become wealthy, whose main purpose was to get power and keep it."[60]

Author's Notes

57. One of the very few recent monographs to directly tackle democratization is Shade, Democratizing the Old Dominion, dealing with one state and taking democracy largely as a given for the rest of the country. The democratization of political language is analyzed in Robertson, Language ofDemocracy.

60. Wilentz, “On Class and Politics,” 45. This same essay provides a thorough review of the relevant literature, which is far too voluminous to cite here.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Pasley, Jeffrey L. *"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Jeffrey L. Pasley, *"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic* (University Press of Virginia, 2001), 17–18.

Shortened citation:

Pasley, *"The Tyranny of Printers"*, 17–18.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.40

The Presidency of James Monroe

Noble E. Cunningham Jr.

SELECTION	The Election of a President
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 19–20 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

When the electoral vote was cast in December 1816, Monroe won all but three states and captured 183 votes. Rufus King carried only Massa chusetts, Connecticut, and Delaware for a total of thirty-four electoral votes. Receiving the same number of votes as Monroe, Governor Daniel D. Tompkins of New York was elected vice-president. When the Senate met on February 12,1817, to count the electoral vote, a brief controversy erupted over Indiana's ballot, cast before it had been admitted as a state in December 1816. In the end, the three electoral votes of the nineteenth and newest state were duly read and recorded. In any event, their exclu sion would not have altered the outcome.[15]

Long before the electoral vote was cast or counted, Monroe was making plans for his administration and receiving advice and recom mendations about the composition of his cabinet. General Andrew Jackson wrote to Monroe in early November 1816, urging the appointment of William Drayton, a South Carolina Federalist, as secretary of war. With apologies for unsolicited advice, Jackson then asserted:

In reply, Monroe offered an extended commentary on political par ties in the United States and on the policy regarding partisanship that he planned to follow while president. In doing so, he made it clear that he viewed the situation as more complex than that suggested by Jack son's proposal simply to ignore all party feelings and attachments. Mon roe affirmed that he believed decidedly in the principle that the presi dent "ought not to be the head of a party, but of the nation itself." But he went on to review the history of the rise of political parties in the United States and to point out fundamental differences between the Federalists and the Republicans. "That some of the leaders of the fed eral party entertained principles unfriendly to our system of govern ment I have been thoroughly convinced; and that they meant to work a change in it, by taking advantage of favorable circumstances, I am equally convinced." The opposition of the Republicans, "carried on with great firmness, checked the career of this party, and kept it within moderate limits."17

The clash between the parties had not ceased, Monroe maintained, pointing to the Federalist opposition to the War of 1812 and to the Hart ford Convention—opposition that had reduced the Federalist party to its present weakened state. Furthermore, the recent presidential election "has been made by the republican party... and of a person known to be devoted to that cause." Although the dangerous purposes of the Federalist party were largely confined to certain eastern leaders and never adopted, "still, southern and eastern federalists have been con nected together as a party, have acted together heretofore, and altho' their conduct has been different, of late especially, yet the distinction between republicans and federalists, even in the Southern and Middle and Western States, has not been fully done away." And he asked: "To give effect to free government, and secure it from future danger, ought not its decided friends, who stood firm in the day of trial, to be princi pally relied on? Would not the association of any of their opponents in the Administration itself wound their feeling, or, at least, of very many of them, to the injury of the republican cause?"18

Author's Notes

15. National Intelligencer (Washington), Feb. 12, 14, 1817.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cunningham, Noble E., Jr. *The Presidency of James Monroe*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Noble E. Cunningham Jr., *The Presidency of James Monroe* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 19–20.

Shortened citation:

Cunningham, *The Presidency of James Monroe*, 19–20.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.41

The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era

Richard P. McCormick

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Excerpt

successive contests between various candidates was to produce a party system that by 1840 was remarkably free of regional bias. The two new parties were balanced and competitive in every region. For a very brief period—between 1840 and 1852 —the nation, for the only time in its history, had two parties that were both truly national in scope. But this curiously contrived party system was, in a very special sense, "artificial," for it could survive only if the regional feelings that had so largely shaped its being were obliterated. Such feelings did not subside, the second American party system broke down in the 1850's, and the third party system—with its decided regional bias—was then formed.

This exceedingly general statement of my central thesis can be supplemented by a series of detailed propositions.

7. This "balanced" character of the second party system, produced by the particular circumstances associated with its formation, made it an "'artificial" party system. It could survive only by avoitling regionally divisive issues.

8. The second party system was characterized by similar alignments of voters in both state and national elections in every state. Previously, a wide variety of party situations— "one-party," "'no-party,"' and "dual-party," as well as "twoparty"—had maintained. g. The most crucial development in the extension of the second party system was the abrupt emergence of a two-party South between 1832 and 1834. This development owed much to the substitution of Van Buren, a northerner, for Jackson as the prospective Democratic candidate in 1836.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCormick, Richard P. *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Footnote citation:

Richard P. McCormick, *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era* (University of North Carolina Press, 1966), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

McCormick, *The Second American Party System*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.42

Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The Making of the Democratic Party
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 124–125 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1959.

Excerpt

Some historians are of the general opinion that the Republican party split into two groups along clearly discernible lines shortly after Adams's election: that the antiadministration forces rallied around Jackson and eventually called themselves Democrats, while the pro-administration faction united behind Adams and Clay and referred to themselves as National Republicans. True, a cleavage among Republicans did appear as early as 1826, but it was not a sharp division, and few contemporaries regarded it as irreconcilable. All opponents of Adams did not rush into the Jackson camp. Many of them, especially the Radicals, were perplexed and did nothing but grumble.®

Van Buren was one of the very few who insisted that the break was a throwback to the old division between Jefferson and Hamilton. He had said this repeatedly, thinking the Republicans would wake up to political reality. When they did not, when they continued regrouping themselves along artificial, personal lines, he undertook the task of making the break permanent, which necessitated, of course, redefining party principles and reestablishing party organization.

The making of the Democratic party—or, more precisely, the revamping of the Republican party—was largely the work of Martin Van Buren. While he was aided and abetted by many—among whom were John H. Eaton, Hugh Lawson White, William B. Lewis, Francis Preston Blair, James Buchanan, Thomas Ritchie, Isaac Hill, Amos Kendall, and Thomas Hart Benton—he alone discharged the tremendous task of basic reorganization. It took him two years to accomplish his ends and not until well into 1828 did the "Democratic party" finally emerge. Andrew Jackson naturally contributed an indispensable element to the work by lending his name and popularity to the movement, although he himself remained silent and inactive in Tennessee. Moreover, there had already begun a movement in a few states away from personal factions and toward something approaching national politics. But it was Van Buren who joined together the different sections of the country and united the followers of Calhoun and Crawford with the Jacksonians. It was he who tried to draw the East and West closer together. It was he who renewed the alliance between the North and South that lasted until I860.®

Apart from his conscious effort to unite the Jackson groups, Van Buren forced a stronger states' rights doctrine into the party platform, insisted that the activity of the Federal government be reduced, and, in short, demanded that Jacksonians become doctrinaire Jeffersonians.

It has been pointed out by recent historians that in several respects Jackson's election to the presidency in 1828 is somewhat similar to Franklin D. Roosevelt's election in 1932. A few of these historians argue that the politicians surrounding these two men were interested primarily in electing their man, and only secondarily in creating a party or establishing political principles. The man came first; the principles would be found afterward.

Whatever truth there may be to this thesis regarding the politicians of either period, it can not be applied to Van Buren. He had been arguing principles long before he became a Jacksonian; and they were the same principles after he became a Jacksonian. With him the issues and the party came first; then he found his candidate.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1959.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party* (Columbia University Press, 1959), 124–125.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party*, 124–125.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.43

Martin Van Buren

Ted Widmer

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

Will Rogers once said, "I don't belong to an organized party— I'm a Democrat." But, in fact, organization is precisely what distinguished the proto-party that Van Buren was forming. Far beyond anything that had existed before, Van Buren envisioned a national structure, tethered together by speedy communications and tight message control, that would unite the aspirations of "the planters of the South and the plain Republicans of the North." It was the Regency reanimated—only on a far bigger scale. From across the Union, the people would be connected by alert local committees reporting to their state chairmen, but, just as importantly, by the novel sense that politics was a participatory ritual, gaudy and fun. It took a tavernkeeper's son to figure out that the American people actually like being with each other.

We have grown so complacent with the idea of two-party democracy that we still fail to grasp its revolutionary power. There is nothing in the Constitution about opposition parties and, in fact, the Founding Fathers took great pains to express their horror for them. James Madison attacked "the violence of faction" in Federalist 10 (though he was not above joining the first party squabbles of the 1790s), and George Washington, even more shrilly, denounced "the baneful effects of the Spirit of Party" in his farewell address. Considering how caustically the founders examined the European political universe, it is curious that they still could not see how naive their hopes for America were. They expected the United States to be a new kind of society, partyless, where democracy spread magically because great thinkers representing the people wished it so.

Now, of course, we know differently, and evidence of opposition parties is one of the most important ways to measure the vital signs of an emerging democracy. Such parties normally appear well after a successful revolution, but they are no less crucial to the evolution of a civil society, as anyone from Zimbabwe, Cuba, or Hong Kong can confirm. Van Buren, while not a radical thinker, deserves full credit for realizing this truth ahead of his compatriots. It was a huge contribution, lost in the obscurity of the early republic, somewhere between the Erie Canal and the Tariff of Abominations, but more important than either. Not only is the spirit of party not hostile to democracy, it is essential to it. We are all familiar with the deficiencies of the two-party system—the acrimony, gridlock, and corruption that taint the process more than we care to admit. However, there is a fundamental balance at its core—an internal gyroscope, based on brute competition—that has allowed this system to continue, with only a few modifications, from 1828 to the present. That gyroscope was built by Van Buren, and every time we ask another country to replicate it, we are paying silent homage to him.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Widmer, Ted. *Martin Van Buren*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Ted Widmer, *Martin Van Buren* (Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Widmer, *Martin Van Buren*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.44

Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West

John Craig Hammond

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2007.

Excerpt

IV Northern restrictionists fully understood that the southern position called for nothing less than the indefinite and uncontrolled expansion of slavery. What remained so disconcerting for many northerners was the South's insistence that the nation could do nothing about slavery but manage it properly through permanent expansion and diffusion. "Let me ask gentlemen where this diffusion is to end," demanded John Sergeant of Pennsylvania. "If circumstances require it at present, will not the same circumstances demand it hereafter? Will they not, at some future time, become straitened in their new limits, however large? And what will you do then? Diffuse again—and what then? Even this diffusion will have its limits, and when they are reached, the case is without remedy and without hope." As Sergeant recognized, southern politicians had begun codifying the rationale for an empire for slavery.

Despite restrictionists' insistence that Congress accept the Tallmadge restrictions and forge a comprehensive ban on slavery in the West, by January ☐820 it became increasingly clear that southern obstinacy would prevail, "no matter what the northern people may say." Some northern restrictionists wished to ride the question out, hoping that the South or Missouri would acquiesce to restrictions, but there were too many obstacles to overcome. Southern politicians refused to accept any restrictions on Missouri slavery, and they fortified their position by promising disunion if Congress insisted on them as a condition of Missouri statehood. Northern congressmen knew they could ignore Missouri's hollow threats of disunion; they could not disregard the South's promise to do the same. Furthermore, with pressing business concerning land, commerce, money, and manufacturing stalled by the Missouri question, with much of the nation tiring over the crisis, and with expansionists holding Maine's statehood hostage, some northern and southern politicians began to look for a way out. Ultimately, it took all the talents of Henry Clay and intense presidential pressure on a select group of northern congressmen to work out a compromise. In March ☐820, in a series of narrow votes, Congress admitted Missouri without restrictions and closed off the remainder of the Louisiana Purchase north of latitude 36°30' to slavery.

Some expansionists expressed anger at even the notion of a settlement; having expended so much energy and doctrine proving that the government could not restrict expansion, they were not about to yield now. Most, however, understood just how little the slave South had yielded. While slavery was "forever prohibited" from the lands north of the 36°30' line, southerners doubted that Congress would actually impose the restriction when the region was organized into territories. They still denied that Congress possessed the authority to do so, and they insisted that the restrictions were not binding on any states formed out of the region now declared off-limits to slaveholders. When a northern congressman asked his southern colleagues if they were "conceding the point that Congress has the power to make that restriction or territorial prohibition perpetual and binding," William Lowndes merely "smiled and shook his head" no. Furthermore, on at least three separate occasions, John Taylor of New York prodded Congress "to inquire into the expediency of prohibiting by law the introduction of slaves into the territories of the United States west of the Mississippi." While this would have blanketed the entire trans-Mississippi West, as well as any territory acquired in the future with an Article VI–like prohibition on slavery, the final compromise limited itself to the remaining unorganized territory in the northern parts of the Louisiana Purchase.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, John Craig. *Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

John Craig Hammond, *Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West* (University of Virginia Press, 2007), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Hammond, *Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.45

Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds.

SELECTION	"Uncontrollable Necessity"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 151–152 · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Excerpt

protected the rights of slaveholders already in place while providing for the gradual abolition of the slavery that had existed in the territory prior to statehood. While most Northern congressmen seem to have agreed with Poindexter, thirty-three representatives—a full third of the representatives from the Northern states—still saw fit to vote against admission. More telling, during the debate, Tallmadge stated his conviction that "the interest, honor, and faith of the nation, required it scrupulously to guard against slavery's passing into a territory where they have power to prevent its entrance." Tallmadge understood that the key issue was power, and there was little doubt that Congress now possessed the power needed to restrict slavery's Western expansion. Less than three months later, he would set off the Missouri Controversy by introducing his own gradual abolition plan for Missouri, a territory, like Illinois, with a comparatively small slave population and a climate unsuitable for plantation agriculture. This time, the House would approve Tallmadge's proposal with near-unanimous Northern support." In retrospect, by 1819, it was probably inevitable that something like the Missouri Controversy would come to pass.

The emergence of a more secure West and the prospect of a continental republic; new sectional conflicts over slavery and increased Northern interest in restricting Western slavery; and, finally, the emergence of a federal government whose power increasingly matched its authority—all suggested that Northern Republicans would support any practical measure to restrict slavery expansion. What occurred in 1819, then, amounted to more than Northerners having "awakened quite suddenly to a realization" that "the national prospect had been heavily weighted in favor of slavery."*? If Northern politicians awoke to anything, it was to the realization that the federal government now possessed the real, effective "power" needed to halt slavery's expansion in a continental republic. Politicians also realized that the lack of power had been the deciding factor in their earlier decisions to permit slavery's expansion. In the heat of the Missouri Controversy, James Tallmadge declared that it was "an old principle,' that "whenever the United States have had the right and power, they have heretofore prevented the extension of slavery."

While Northern politicians conceded that previous Congresses had permitted slavery elsewhere, they maintained that Congress had done so only out of "uncontrollable necessity." Geopolitical rivalries, patterns of settlement, state claims to the Old Southwest, and the presence of slavery there had all meant that the federal government lacked the "power" to prohibit slavery in Kentucky, to halt the growth of slavery in the Old Southwest did not diminish its right to do so in Missouri, nor to prohibit its expansion into the Trans- Mississippi West. Indeed, now that the federal government possessed the power needed to prohibit slavery's further extension, Northern restrictionists concluded that Congress was obligated to use it.** Though historians have often focused their studies on the overly broad question of slavery in the United States, or on the narrow issue of sectional political strength, Northern Republicans who led the fight against Missouri slavery focused their arguments on the future of slavery in the Western portions of an expanding American Union.

Throughout the Missouri Controversy they insisted that slavery in the Trans-Mississippi West was a national problem that required a comprehensive solution—one that began with restricting slavery in Missouri. By 1819 both Northerners and Southerners understood that American expansion had entered a new phase. Post- Revolutionary expansion into the Trans-Appalachian West, followed by the Louisiana Purchase, had created an enormous but unstable Union. Now, the existing Union seemed secure and many white Americans anticipated a new round of territorial acquisition and incorporation that would carry the American Union all the way to the Pacific. The outcome of the Missouri Controversy would set the "authority of precedent" for slavery in the remainder of the Louisiana

Purchase and in the expected American expansion into Texas and on to the Pacific Coast. In order to prohibit slavery in the Far Western reaches of an expanding empire, Congress would have to halt slavery's expansion now, in Missouri. As Northerners—Republicans and Federalists—insisted, this would be the first step toward prohibiting slavery "in all new states and territories hereafter admitted to the Union."

At the same time, however, most Northerners disclaimed any intentions of interfering with slavery in the Southern states. Much like Abraham Lincoln three decades later, Northern restrictionists sought to exclude slavery from the West rather then to emancipate slaves in the South.[oo] Southern slaveholders would have none of it. By 1819, restrictions on Western slavery menaced slavery in the East in ways that they never had in 1798, 1804, or 1811. Eastern slaveholders' unbridled opposition to the Tallmadge restrictions marked a significant change in the way that slaveholders understood the relationship between Eastern and Western slavery. Prior to 1810, slaveholders from the Atlantic states rarely tied the future of slavery in the East to its continued expansion in the West. Their claims to the West generally did not extend past the Carolina Upcountry, the Georgia interior,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, John Craig, and Matthew Mason, eds. *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Footnote citation:

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds., *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation* (University of Virginia Press, 2011), 151–152.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Contesting Slavery*, 151–152.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.46

Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821

John R. Van Atta

SELECTION	Wolf by the Ears
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 12–13 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

on his Sea Island rice and cotton plantations, wanted the entire population of slaves included in this calculation. Charles C. Pinckney of South Carolina said he would agree to nothing less than a three-fifths agreement, counting three of every five slaves, along with the state's white population, for apportionment purposes. The vehemently antislavery New York merchant Gouverneur Morris, who represented Pennsylvania at the convention, answered that slave labor was "a nefarious institution," the "curse of heaven on the states where it prevailed," responsible for the "misery and poverty which overspread the barren wastes of Virginia, Maryland, and the other states having slaves." If they are men, then "make them citizens, and let them vote," Morris demanded. "Are they property? Why, then, is no other property included?" In his denouncing of slaveholders' influence at the convention, Morris probably came closer than anyone to anticipating the later northern "Slave Power" fear of an ultra-aggressive, expansionist South, bent on undercutting fundamental republican liberty in favor of aristocratic planter-class interests."[o] Most of the delegates, more open to conciliation, expected the arbitrary three-fifths ratio of the slave population to become the basis for a settlement.

James Wilson of Pennsylvania, as opposed to slavery as Morris but anxious to secure sectional harmony, had earlier proposed a compromise exactly on that line. The overarching goal of achieving union sufficed to extinguish this flare-up over slavery, a battle that most framers cared not and saw no reason to fight in the first place. Some southern delegates still viewed the compromise as giving up the principle that all slaves should be counted, but for years to come, the convention's acceptance of the three-fifths rule looked to many northerners like a submission to southern political blackmail. Grant us this concession, slaveholding interests seemed to have demanded, or the whole deal is off." The second dispute involving slavery developed over the empowering of Congress to regulate commerce between the states. Southerners, again led by a South Carolinian, John Rutledge, feared that a northern majority might employ a broad grant of regulatory power to ban the African slave trade.

At first, proslavery delegates insisted on a specific clause forbidding Congress from ever prohibiting the importation of slaves or taxing that trade—again, much to the horror of antislavery delegates like Morris and Rufus King. Unlike the quarrel over the three-fifths clause, however, southerners divided on the desirability of continued slave imports. Virginia and Maryland had recognized their economic interest in discontinuing the trade. To settle the issue temporarily, Connecticut's Roger Sherman and Oliver Ellsworth, betting that slavery in America could somehow end without federal interference, proposed to let the Deep South have its way. A committee, under New Jersey governor William Livingston, recommended that Congress be held back from touching the slave trade until the year 1800. Unwilling to back down completely, South Carolina offered to accept a twenty-year ban on federal intervention—until the year 1808—and the convention agreed. Like the three-fifths compromise, this slave-trade arrangement represented a middle ground between early abolitionist impulses and plantation-labor interests.

The final concession to slavery in the Constitution, approved late in the Philadelphia Convention, came in response to South Carolina's desire to include a clause requiring the return to their masters of slaves who escaped across state lines. Only Sherman of Connecticut and Wilson of Pennsylvania questioned the wisdom of such a provision; the other delegates, perhaps weary of their task and eager to get home, agreed without argument. Thus, a policy that in later decades would generate so much acrimony between North and South passed without much excitement and, in the end, with no states opposed. It helped the slave masters' cause that the Northwest Ordinance also contained a fugitive slave clause. Strongly racist white settlers in the Northwest had no intention of welcoming free black

inhabitants in any case.' Like Sherman, most northerners over the next three decades would tend more often to regard slavery as the South's "problem," one that the "good sense of the several States" eventually would resolve. Others in later years recognized the North's complicity in the perpetuation of slavery in the southern states. While it implied no direct defense of slavery, textile mill operators in New England and the Middle States would need cotton for their manufacturing in years to come, and slaveholders would produce that cotton. Meanwhile, tobacco, rice, and sugar contributed heavily to the vitality not just of certain regions but the economy as a whole. Southerners would revel in these economic truths and find security in them. Besides, the racism present all along in the North differed only by degree from the more practical version of southerners. The antislavery commitment in northern states sprang not from a radical belief in the equality of races but rather the idea that no man held a right to enslave another. Politically, southerners stuck to—and most northerners, until the time of the Missouri crisis, accepted—the view that the Constitution had created a federal system of strictly limited central

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Van Atta, John R. *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

John R. Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015), 12–13.

Shortened citation:

Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears*, 12–13.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.47

Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic

Matthew Mason

SELECTION	THE MISSOURI CRISIS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2006.

Excerpt

Participants in the Missouri debates thus rehearsed all the arguments that previous controversies had rendered standard. But antagonists on both sides also pressed their opponents to examine many of their customary theses. In the name of consistency, many in both North and South began to abandon untenable positions.''* Thus, as old ideas and arguments passed through the refiner's fire of Missouri, many participants grasped at new and unalloyed principles, even as others still clung to the dross. The Missouri debates pushed many of slavery's guardians toward a fuller defense of Southern bondage. The South still had room for a variety of thought on slavery. Indeed, in 1819, Tennessee abolitionist Eihu Embree founded a periodical devoted entirely to the abolition of slavery. He soon expanded his subscription list past 2,000, despite opposition and obstruction.''"" Some few white Southerners openly supported restriction.''° Nevertheless, the Missouri debates moved Southern slaveholders toward greater unity behind the peculiar institution.

For the most part, they put aside partisan differences and embraced an antirestrictionist orthodoxy.'" If state rights, strict construction, and suspicion of outside agitators were firm tenets in this creed, by 1821 many of its framers wanted to add a positive-good defense of slavery. The positive-good doctrine became more attractive to many slaveholders because Northerners exposed the flaws of other defenses of slavery. Many Southern spokesmen attempted to apply the old necessary-evil creed to Missouri through the doctrine of diffusion. Only by spreading the slave population extensively, and thus reducing its proportion to the white population, could Southerners safely consider emancipation. "What enabled New York, Pennsylvania, and other States, to adopt the language of universal emancipation," said Virginia's John 'Tyler in one of the more persuasive presentations of diffusionism, was "nothing but the paucity of the numbers of their slaves.

That which it would have been criminal in those States not to have done, would be an act of political suicide in Georgia or South Carolina to do."'"* The problem with such an argument was that it implied that it was "criminal" for Upper South states with a lesser concentration of slaves to hold on to them. Moreover, Tyler's logic cut against the legality of slavery in Missouri, for in 1819 its slave population was not dense. Furthermore, Northerners repeatedly demonstrated the illogic of diffusionism. One Northern penman declared it "fallacious." "It is not true that emigration from a State will permanently diminish its population. Does any man suppose that the population of Great Britain is less at the present day, because of the emigration of our ancestors?" One of the great evils of slavery was that "taking it away does not remove it.

The spread of our negro population, is like the spread of a plague; it will afford no relief to impart the malady to others: we may give the infection to the whole world and the virulence of our own disease will be unabated."!"° For many Northerners, the drive for expansion to Missouri revealed the slaveholders' traditional apologies to be worse than "fallacious": they were a fraud. Slaveholders had long blamed Great Britain for fixing the curse of slavery upon them but now evinced their desire to fix that curse upon the people of Missouri, without a legitimate plea of necessity. A congressman from Pennsylvania asked, "why should we make Missouri a slaveholding State? As the climate imposes no necessity, wherein does any excuse exist?"!®° "Necessity" was starting to look more like an "excuse" for further aggressions by the plantation complex. Congressmen tended to accuse the Southerners of fraud as gently as such an explosive charge could be made. To give slavery "new root," Illinois's Cook submitted, "and spread it beyond its ancient borders," showed "that it exists, at least in a part of our empire, from choice."!®!

Contributors to Northern newspapers were usually less subtle. Niles contended that Missouri was “a portion of country in which there is no excuse for” slavery, “save that of avarice and a desire of living on the labor of others.”!’ “The people of Virginia and all the other southern states profess to abhor slavery,” ran another diatribe. “All this appears well on paper,” but the slave states’ stance on Missouri proved how hollow such professions really were.'*’ A correspondent of a Philadelphia sheet claimed to “write from the conviction of my understanding, forced reluctantly upon me, when I say I do not believe that the Southern States mean anything more than to blind and deceive the citizens of the free States, when they make their high professions of their sense of the evils of Slavery.”!*4 “The discussion of this Missouri question,” John Quincy Adams reflected, “has betrayed the secret of their souls.” ‘They were, despite their professions, ardently attached to slaveholding.'” If the necessary-evil argument did not fare well at the hands of such Northern assaults, neither did the hesitance with which some of slavery’s champions had ventured into the territory of positive good. As they had in the debates over slavery in the decade leading up to Missouri, many of the peculiar institution’s champions advanced full justifications for it but then backed away. In the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Mason, Matthew. *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Matthew Mason, *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic* (University of North Carolina Press, 2006), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Mason, *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.48

Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America

Padraig Riley

SELECTION	hapter 6. Democracy in Crisis
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 226–227 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

1820, “there is really no difference in principle between the great body of the Republicans and Federalists in the East.” In Story’s case, such harmony reflected his growing conservatism. Yet the Missouri Crisis proved decisive in his turn toward sectionalism, as it did for a number of northern Republicans. William Plumer, Jr., of New Hampshire, who wanted Congress to know that restriction had been first and foremost a Republican measure, also explained that it was not ultimately a partisan issue at all. “The question,” he explained, “is not between Federalists and Republicans, but between slaveholders and those who hold no slaves. It is a knowledge of this fact which has induced the free States, usually so much divided among themselves, to advance on this occasion with so much ardor and unanimity to the attainment of their object.”[58]

Plumer, Jr., felt the Missouri question transcended partisanship; in the eyes of many northerners it also transcended the question of states’ rights, which southerners like Jefferson turned to in order to defend the expansion of slavery. For northern restrictionists, the Missouri debates raised far larger and more fundamental questions about the nature of the United States and American democracy. As William Jones told Jonathan Roberts, “the institution of slavery is only maintained by brutal force.” Its presence in the United States had been “secured by compact, extorted from the friends of Union as only less intolerable than anarchy.” Jones could not believe that northerners would “submit to the extension of an evil which in its early progress must render their voice in the union entirely nugatory.”[59] Slaveholder power, antidemocratic in principle, threatened to undermine northern freedom. Northern Republicans had made similar arguments in the past, but generally in episodic ways: in prior conflicts over slavery in Congress, or as marginal complaints in sectional contests focused on other issues, as in debates over the embargo and over the presidential election of 1812. During the Missouri Crisis, Northerners defined the nature of slaveholder power and its political consequences in much more precise terms. Doing so pointed toward a political alignment that would isolate slaveholding as a threat to northern freedom. While antislavery northerners still gestured toward Democratic-Republican ideals, in many respects they were attempting to reverse the course of Jeffersonian democracy for the past two decades, by forcing the problem of slavery to the center of national politics.

But the Missouri Crisis also revealed the capacity of the American political system to contain conflict over slavery, and that was in many ways a very old story. For over twenty years, Jeffersonian democracy had convinced white northern men to embrace the slaveholding republic of the United States and to tolerate the power masters wielded over their slaves. In Congress, meanwhile, southerners were by and large able to protect slaveholder power from northern interference. On most conflicts over slavery, northerners simply did not have the votes. That institutional limitation was obvious throughout the Missouri Crisis. Northerners prevailed in the House on the question of restriction in 1820, as they had in 1819, but they could not win in the Senate. Pro-southern Senators tied the admission of Maine, which was also seeking statehood from the 16th Congress, to the admission of Missouri. Jesse B. Thomas of Illinois, a southerner by birth and a consistent opponent of restriction, proposed the key provision of the eventual compromise: Missouri would be admitted with no restriction as to slavery but the institution would be excluded in the remainder of the Louisiana Purchase north of the latitude 36°30', the southern border of Missouri. The House initially refused the Senate’s measures, but after a legislative deadlock, a conference composed of members from each house recommended that the House should abandon restriction, that the Senate should separate the admission of Missouri and Maine, and that the 36°30' line should be adopted. When forced to a final vote in the

House on March 2, 1820 just enough northern members joined a solid South to ensure that Missouri was admitted with slavery intact. Directly following that vote, a much larger majority of the House decided to accept the 36°30' compromise. The opponents in this case were primarily southerners who objected to any restriction of slavery by the federal government.[60]

Author's Notes

58. Story to Edward Everett, May 7, 1820, Life and Letters, 1: 366–68; Plumer in AC, 16th Cong., 1st Sess., 1436–37.

59. Jones to Roberts, February 3, 1820, Roberts Papers, HSP.

60. Fourteen northerners joined the South on March 2 to concur with the Senate in striking out the restriction of slavery in the Missouri bill. The final vote was 90 in favor of concurring, 87 opposed. Four other northern members absented themselves during the vote, notably Caleb Tompkins, older brother of Vice President Daniel D. Tompkins. No southern member voted in favor of restricting slavery in Missouri. The 36°30' line was adopted by a vote of 134–42; 37 of the nay votes came from Southerners and 18 from Virginians. AC, 16th Cong., 1st Sess., 1586–1588. For the legislative details, see Moore, Missouri Controversy, 84–102.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Riley, Padraig. *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Padraig Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 226–227.

Shortened citation:

Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience*, 226–227.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.49

No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	TO THE MISSOURI CRISIS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 189–190 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 2018.

Excerpt

Illinois, and had become a center for hemp production and home to upward of ten thousand slaves, roughly 15 percent of its total population. Having met all of the constitutional requirements, the white settlers applied for admission to the Union. Sandwiched between the proposed new state and Louisiana was Arkansas Territory, a rugged terrain, sparsely settled and with a smaller proportion of slaves. Given slavery's substantial presence in Missouri and given Arkansas's location, it was widely assumed that both the new state and the new territory would remain open to slavery."® Tallmadge ignited his Missouri bombshell in the House in February 1819, near the end of the congressional session. His two-part amendment required, first, that the new state's constitution bar any further introduction of slavery, and second, that it include a gradual emancipation plan, in this case along the lines of New York's emancipation law of 1799. After more than two days of searing debate, the House approved both proposals by votes of 87-76 and 82-78, respectively, and sent them to the Senate. Southerners voted almost unanimously against both proposals; the northerners broke 86-10 and 80-14 in favor."

For the first time ever, a chamber of Congress had voted to eliminate slavery in an area under its jurisdiction including an emancipation plan for resident slaves. The day after the vote, Tallmadge's close ally from New York (and a future Speaker of the House), John W. Taylor, introduced a similar clause "to prohibit the existence of slavery in the new Territory" of Arkansas.*° The two sets of amendments raised different constitutional issues. Missouri was applying for full statehood, and, as the debate over IIlinois showed, Congress had not yet settled whether it could refuse to admit a new state over the existence of slavery. Because Missouri's year earlier. Southerners contended that the Constitution did not empower Congress to block a new state over slavery. Northerners replied that until Missouri was formally admitted, it remained a territory over which Congress could exercise complete authority. Arkansas Territory seemingly presented a more straightforward situation. As recently as the admission of Louisiana Territory in 1804, slaveholders had conceded Congress's authority over slavery in the territories.

Proslavery advocates had beaten back efforts to ban slavery in Mississippi and Louisiana Territories, but not on the grounds that Congress was prohibited by the Constitution from doing so. Under the pressure of the debates over Missouri, though, some slaveholders—'the zealots,' John Quincy Adams called them—counterattacked by contending that Congress was powerless over slavery in the territories as well, or at the very least those territories, including Arkansas, obtained in the Louisiana Purchase." As justification, they advanced new claims that the Constitution actually recognized property in man, which precluded any congressional restrictions. The initial southern ripostes to Taylor's Arkansas amendment, to be sure, ran an erratic gamut, ranging from accusations that Taylor was slandering the South to denunciations of his proposal as "an entering wedge" for national emancipation. (Speaker Henry Clay accused Taylor of Negrophobia, which elicited a prickly reply from Taylor that the debate over Arkansas in fact revealed that fear of blacks prevailed not in the North but the South, where "it haunts its subjects in their dreams, and disturbs their waking hours.") Hugh Nelson of Virginia shifted the debate to constitutional grounds. Had their predecessors proposed

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2018.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding* (Harvard University Press, 2018), 189–190.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *No Property in Man*, 189–190.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.50

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 220–221 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

Virginia Republicans, by contrast, sometimes aligned with moderate northern Federalists and northern Republicans against the Deep South on matters relat ing to slavery, at least through 1800. Well into the post-Revolutionary era, the assumption prevailed among many Virginians, slaveholders and nonslavehold ers, that human bondage was a moribund abomination. Thomas Jefferson had famously written, in his Notes on the State o f Virginia of 1785, that "[t]he whole commerce between master and slave is a perpetual exercise of the most boister ous passions, the most unremitting despotism on the one part, and degrading submissions on the other.... I tremble for my country when I reflect that God is just." Jefferson would never tremble enough to free more than a handful of his own slaves. Neither he nor most other first-rank southern political leaders took up the antislavery cause too publicly or too vociferously. When pushed hard by the Deep South slaveholders—as they were in 1790, over a House committee report giving Congress wide powers over slavery—the Virginians chose expedi ency over idealism. Still, the Enlightenment and religious humanitarian impulses that helped bring emancipation to the northern states were there in Virginia and the upper South. Manumissions rose markedly after 1790. (A greater number of Virginia slaves were freed between the Revolution and the War of 1812 than at any time until 1865.) A persistent glut and depressed prices in world tobacco markets further augured a shift in southern agriculture toward wheat production, highly profitable without slave labor. To some Virginians, including Jefferson, it appeared as if morality and self-interest might actually converge in the not-too-distant future.[4]

That future never came, and by 1815, the politics of slavery had acquired an entirely different political charge. The closer Congress verged on legislation con cerning the institution directly, the more southerners recoiled, and the more pro slavery views hardened. More important, slavery experienced a renaissance after

1790 that forever changed the course of southern history—and American history. A rapid rise of world demand for sugar and, even more, for cotton; the decline of many Caribbean plantation economies in the wake of the Saint Domingue revo lution and the reduction of the Spanish empire during the Napoleonic Wars; the expansion, with the Louisiana Purchase, of American territory suited to plantation-based economies; the boom in short-staple (or upland) cotton pro duction enabled by the introduction of Whitney's cotton gin —all gave Ameri cans extraordinary advantages in reviving their own plantation system. For some southerners, the combination of new opportunities and revived fears of slave revolts led to a new vision of an American slavery spreading steadily westward, no longer dependent on freshly imported (and possibly troublesome) slaves from Africa but on a growing domestic slave population, beautifully situated to cash in on the production of sugar and cotton.[5]

Suddenly, the liberal blandishments of the post-Revolutionary years either faded away, fell on the defensive, or turned, ironically, into their opposites. In border states like Henry Clay's Kentucky and in portions of the lower South where slavery was scarce, the Jeffersonian view of slavery as a necessary evil — degrading to master and slave alike, but not amenable to any safe and practical immediate solution —still held powerful sway. But elsewhere, pro-slavery opin ion became more widespread and bolder. Some Deep South slaveholders para doxically came to support antislavery efforts to end the transatlantic slave trade in

1807, seeing in western expansion a more secure basis for slavery's future. More generally, the lower South became even more outspoken in its view of slavery as benevolent. In a speech to the House late in 1806, a young, ardently

pro-slavery

Republican, Peter Early of Georgia, revealed how southern sensibilities were changing. Noting that he had earlier described slavery as an “evil,” Early begged to explain that he had only meant to say that “[rjeflecting men” in the South apprehended slavery as a “political evil” that might “at some future day” cause great troubles, but “that few, very few, consider it a crime.” As if affirming that former heresy was becoming southern orthodoxy, Early then added, “I will tell the truth. A large majority of people in the Southern states do not consider slav ery as even an evil.”6

Author's Notes

4. Jefferson, Notes on the State o f Virginia William E. Pcden, ed. (New'York, 1954), 162-63. There is considerable dispute among historians about how to interpret the burst of manu missions after the Revolution—between those who minimize its importance and those who stress the genuine moral awakening experienced, if only gradually, by such prominent slaveholders as George Washington. The point to stress is that the tone did change between 1800 and 1820, making antislavery sentiments even more tenuous among slave holders throughout the South. See Robert McColley, Slavery and Jeffersonian Virginia (1964; Urbana, IL, 1973), esp. 111-62; Henry Wiecek, An Imperfect God: George Wash ington, His Slaves, and the Creation o f America (New York, 2003). On the congressional struggle in 1790, see Robinson, Structure, 302-12. Of the House floor leader for compro mise, Robinson (312) writes, “Having initially supported the investigation of Congres sional powers over slavery and the slave trade, Madison quickly sensed that opinions were so profoundly divided that the mere discussion of them constituted a serious threat to the union.” Thus, the political threats and anxieties that helped shape the federal convention in 1787 persisted in the First Congress—and well beyond. See New'man, “Prelude”; Stu art Knee, “The Quaker Petitions of 1790: A Challenge to the Democracy of Early Amer ica,” Slavery and Abolition, 6 (1985): 151-9.

5. For a recent analysis of the economic and political factors behind American slavery’s ren aissance, see Adam Rothman, “ The Expansion of Slavery in the Deep South, 1790-1820” (Ph.D. dissert., Columbia University, 2000).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 220–221.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 220–221.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.51

The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery

Don E. Fehrenbacher

SELECTION	O slavery and the founding of the republic
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 43–44 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Excerpt

1803. Federal intervention was obviously needed for total suppression, but without the slave-trade clause, such intervention might have been hard to justify and initiate.The clause did permit the importation of some Africans—indeed, many thousands by South Carolina over a four-year period. But at the same time it expressly confirmed the power of Congress to prohibit the trade eventually, and more than that, it fostered a general expectation of federal legislation and federal enforcement at a designated time.When Congress passed the slave-trade act of 1807, it did so on a schedule set by the Constitution, and the vote in the House of Representatives was 113 to 5.

The slave-trade clause was placed in Article I, Section 9, among the enumerated limitations on congressional authority. It temporarily suspended, and thereby plainly acknowledged, federal power to outlaw the foreign slave trade.The power was actually conferred in the clause authorizing Congress to "regulate commerce with foreign nations." But the same clause invested Congress with equivalent jurisdiction over commerce "among the several states," and if "commerce" included slave traffic in the one instance, it must have done so in the other. That inference was sustained in the act of 1807, which not only forbade the importation of slaves but also placed certain restrictions on that part of the domestic slave trade carried on in coasting vessels. Furthermore, if the power to "regulate" meant the power to prohibit in the one instance, there is no sound basis for argument that it did not mean the same thing in the other. Thus the slave-trade clause, whether or not the framers so intended, recognized congressional power to regulate or even abolish the interstate slave trade at any time after 1807.

Although the clause did not mention slaves or slavery by name, the words "importation" and "duty" came closer than anything else in the Constitution to reflecting the property-holding aspect of the institution. Yet the temporary nature of the clause made it a dubious basis for any defense of slavery after 1807 and seemed to point instead toward restriction and ultimate extinction. In addition, the operation of the clause was limited from the beginning to the original states, and this, together with the Northwest Ordinance, indicated a general disposition to view slavery as the exception rather than the rule in an expanding nation. Finally, it should be noted that the slave-trade clause suspended only federal power over the importation of slaves, not federal power over all aspects of the African slave trade.As early as 1794, for example, Congress prohibited "carrying on the Slave Trade from the United States to any foreign place or country," and an act passed in 1800 outlawed all American participation in the traffic. These steps, which would have been impossible under the Articles of Confederation, were taken by virtue of the commerce clause of the Constitution.

The one unambiguously proslavery provision of the Constitution was the fugitive slave clause. Here again the framers chose not to name the thing they were talking about: "No person held to service or labour in one state, under the laws thereof, escaping into another, shall, in consequence of any law or regulation therein, be discharged from such service or labour, but shall be delivered up on claim of the party to whom such service or labour may be due." The clause was not placed in Article I with the enumerated powers of Congress but appears instead in Article IV, Section 2. That whole article is about states and statehood, and the second section is about interstate comity. Of the other three sections in the article, two expressly confer power on Congress, and the other vests power more generally in the "United States"— meaning, presumably, all three branches of the federal government. There is no such conferral of

power in Section 2, which lends credence to the view of the fugitive slave clause as nothing more than a declaratory limitation on state authority. That view, if accurate, goes a long way toward explaining the absence of controversy in the genesis of a clause that became the basis for some of the most controversial legislation ever passed by Congress.

Without a doubt, the three-fifths clause, or some equivalent, was essential for the success of the Constitution as we know it. The slave-trade clause was probably a necessary concession to the lower South—one that proved, however, to be antislavery rather than proslavery in its ultimate effect. The fugitive-slave clause was a more gratuitous addition to the Constitution, and it alone provided slaveholders with some measure of protection, though only in vague and passive terms. Each of the three clauses dealt with a marginal feature of slavery that had some claim on national attention. None of the three recognized slavery as having any legitimacy in federal law. On the contrary, the framers were doubly careful to treat it explicitly as a state institution. Most revealing in this respect was a last-minute change in the fugitive-clause whereby the phrase "legally held to service or labour in one state" was changed to read "held to service or labour in one state, under the laws thereof." The revision made it impossible to infer from the passage that the Constitution itself legally sanctioned slavery.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fehrenbacher, Don E. *The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery*. Completed and edited by Ward M. McAfee. New York: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Don E. Fehrenbacher, *The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery* (Oxford University Press, 2001), 43–44.

Shortened citation:

Fehrenbacher, *The Slaveholding Republic*, 43–44.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.52

The Era of Good Feelings

George Dangerfield

SELECTION	THE POLITICS OF SLAVERY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 200–201 · Supplied edition: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Excerpt

The amendment, however, was well suited to the political needs of the North and the East. They had never been reconciled to the clause in the first Article of the Constitution which made the Negro slave three-fifths of a man for the purpose of apportioning representatives, and they were now determined to prevent this apportionment from creeping across the Mississippi. The Panic of 1819 was just beginning to show that the economic foundations of the Union were far from sound; and the Tallmadge amendment, which questioned the soundness of its ethical foundations, was a political weapon of the most dangerous kind. When politics, economics, and ethics are all mixed together, the mixture may be confusing, and it is sure to be deadly. During the debate on the Tallmadge amendment, even the most fustian language had a prophetic ring. “You have kindled a fire,” shouted Congressman Cobb of Georgia, in response to the arguments of Tallmadge “which all the waters of the ocean cannot put out, which seas of blood can only extinguish.”

The amendment was passed in the House of Representatives by a strictly sectional vote of 87 to 76 (on its first part, prohibiting the further introae of pay ea 82 to 78 (on its second part, freeing all children geet st coe - ie s admission into the Union). In the Senate, the first part it by a vote of 31 to 7, and the second by one of 22 to 16; and the Bill, without the amendment, was returned to the HMh citizens expressed themselves as being astonished and horrified at the thought that slavery could cross the Mississippi, though it had been doing so for many years.? Southern newspapers and pamphleteers seemed to be outraged by the suggestion that it could be prevented from ranging over the whole Louisiana Purchase.*° During the framing of the Constitution, during the Burr conspiracy, during the War of 1812, the combination of political grievance on the one hand, and of the anomaly of slavery in a modern republic on the other, had threatened to burst into flame.*? It had now fulfilled its threat: so much so that people soon began to ask themselves, not whether the fire could be extinguished, but whether it could be banked.

In its crudest form, the question raised by the Tallmadge Amendment was that of the control of the Mississippi Valley. Would such an amendment dissolve the old alliance between the freé-soil Northwest and the slaveholding South? Here Missouri was little more than a symbol, a geographical ideogram. It could never become a great slave-holding state, because its southern lands were not favorable to cotton as a major crop; while hemp, to which its western soils were well suited, was already crying for protective tariffs. Hemp culture, however, was so disagreeable that it was considered especially appropriate to slave labor: hemp, therefore, was both an attraction and an excuse. Ever since the close of the War of 1812, Missouri’s most characteristic immigrants had been slave-owners.”

This migration was of grave significance. In the first place, Missouri was a pioneering land, still largely uncleared; and, when cleared, more suited to diversified farming than to a one-crop system. Its manners retained all the innocence or savagery of the frontier; it was a common proverb that when one crossed the Mississippi one traveled beyond the Sabbath." Its closest connections were still with the fur trade. It thrust itself towards the northwest, into distances so vague and along waters so unknown that sober people still declared that there was an active volcano near the sources of the Missouri.1* Its borders were adjacent to free-soil Illinois and to slave-soil Kentucky and Tennessee. It was, in short, a challenge both to the idea of a democratic West and to the scarcely formulated notion of universal slavery.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dangerfield, George. *The Era of Good Feelings*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Footnote citation:

George Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings* (Harcourt, Brace, 1952), 200–201.

Shortened citation:

Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings*, 200–201.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.53

The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821

Glover Moore

SELECTION	EMOCRACY AND STATE RIGHTS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 299–300 · Supplied edition: University of Kentucky Press, 1953.

Excerpt

None of these memorials failed to give due emphasis to the humanitarian aspect of the contest over Missouri. “As con¬ nected with the rights of humanity,” said the legislature of Massachusetts, “this question swells into one of immense mag¬ nitude.” Pennsylvania urged her sister states “to refuse to covenant with crime” by spreading the “cruelties of slavery from the banks of the Mississippi to the shores of the Pacific.” The legislature of Vermont hoped that Congress would never “plant the standard of the Union in Missouri, to wave over the heads of involuntary slaves, ‘who have nothing they can call their own, except their sorrows and their sufferings,’ and a life beyond the grave, and who can never taste the sweets of liberty, unless they obtain it by force or by flight.”

It was good strategy for Southerners to minimize the humani¬ tarian side of the Missouri Controversy and play up its political angles. This they promptly did. “The balance of power vi¬ brates;” said the Washington Intelligencer, “and the feelings of our politicians vibrate in sympathy.” Said the Louisville Public Advertiser: “Missouri is at present the object of persecu¬ tion, and the horrors of slavery constitute the popular tune, so pathetically sung by all the non-slave-holding states, for the purpose of obtaining the ‘balance of power in Congress.” In the opinion of the Norfolk and Portsmouth Herald, the North¬ ern newspapers had “boldly displayed the cloven foot which marks their real design in advocating restriction.—Power, power —the preponderance of political power is the great desideraturn.” The Charleston Southern Patriot pronounced the Mis¬ souri contest “nakedly a question of political power and man¬ agement, and not of right and humanity.” “ ’Tis now as clear as the radiance of the noon-day sun,” said the Milledgeville, Georgia, Journal, “that the restriction of slavery is but a second¬ ary object—the mighty contest is for power—political power.” Likewise the Huntsville, Alabama, Republican regarded the Missouri question “merely as a political manoeuvre” and “the Hobby Horse on which the ambitious men of the north hope to ride into power.”

The restrictionists were vexed no end that Southerners should attempt to dismiss the antislavery movement as a political plot. After receiving a letter from a young friend who was visiting in Georgia, John Pintard of New York wrote his daughter that “The Georgians are outrageous about the Missouri & impute every thing but justice & humanity, with conscious scruples of an outrageous violation of the national constitution, to us Northerns, as tho’ we were actuated by unworthy motives.”

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Moore, Glover. *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821*. Lexington: University of Kentucky Press, 1953.

Footnote citation:

Glover Moore, *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821* (University of Kentucky Press, 1953), 299–300.

Shortened citation:

Moore, *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821*, 299–300.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.54

Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds.

SELECTION	John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Excerpt

LOPWalG LPOTT Ul IK vee yim eee eee eee IIIS EEE republic. Rather than analyzing the early republic's politics of slavery on its own terms, historians have rummaged through the early republic searching for the roots, origins, and antecedents of antebellum sectional conflict and civil war.'

As recently as 2000, historians could agree on something like a standard narrative, situating the early republic's politics of slavery into the larger saga of slavery and sectionalism, disunion, and civil war. That narrative began with Revolutionary challenges to bondage that resulted in the gradual abolition of slavery in the North, a brief surge of manumissions in the Upper South, and the passage of the Northwest Ordinance of 1787. From this high point of Revolutionary antislavery fervor, the politics of slavery devolved into a long history of slaveholder triumphs. The Constitution granted slaveholders extraordinary political power that allowed them to protect their institution from outside interference. In the 1790s, Northern challenges to slavery were repeatedly compromised, then thwarted by self-interested political calculations and endemic white racism. After 1800, antislavery politics was confined to back-bencher New England Federalists, who could pose only token opposition to policies favored by Southern slaveholders and supported by their Northern Republican allies.

Consequently, in the thirty years after the implementation of the Constitution, Southerners quietly fashioned the United States government into a slaveholders' republic, expanding the geographical reach of slavery while solidifying their political power and control over the institution. The same three decades saw only brief political battles over the closing of the international slave trade and the expansion of slavery in the Missouri Controversy. Though the Constitution structured later conflicts over slavery, and the Missouri Controversy anticipated the sectional politics of the 1840s and 1850s, historians generally agreed that there was no lasting significant sectional politics through the 1820s. That the furor displayed during the Missouri Crisis subsided as quickly as it appeared confirmed that few white Americans believed that slavery was a pressing political issue. Only in the 1830s did radical abolitionists, Deep South extremists, and rebelling slaves begin to force slavery into the national political agenda" Recent scholarship on the period between the Revolution and the 1830s has significantly revised this understanding of slavery and American politics.

This volume builds on the best of that literature to reexamine the politics of slavery in Revolutionary America and the early republic. Together, this new scholarship and the essays in Contesting Slavery establish the enduring importance of slavery and sectionalism in American political life by challenging historians' long-standing assumptions about the origins, extent, and significance of Founders and the best-known actors in the early republic's politics. To be sure, such political luminaries as Thomas Jefferson and Timothy Pickering appear frequently in these essays. However, they arejoined by a complicated cast of Northern and Southern farmers, Eastern and Western planters, men and women, minor Federalists and Republicans, blacks and whites, the free and the enslaved, the politically marginalized and the politically potent. While much previous scholarship placed the Founders at the center of the politics of slavery, the essays in Contesting Slavery instead show that political elites found themselves reacting to events that forced slavery into local, state, regional, and national politics.

Richard Newman's essay demonstrates the direct role African Americans took in debates over their place in American life, while Robert Parkinson and Edward Rugemer illustrate how African Americans' willingness to fight and flee for their freedom shaped white concerns about slavery and abolition. Similarly, while Matthew Mason traces

how farmers pushed for abolition in New York, John Craig Hammond examines how Western planters shaped the course of slavery expansion. Directly confronting decades of Founders-centered scholarship, Padraig Riley looks past Thomas Jefferson and other prominent party leaders to examine how obscure Northern Jeffersonians reconciled their passion for democracy and equality with the reality of their political alliance with aristocratic slaveholders. As the essays in this collection demonstrate, the politics of slavery could not be confined to a select group of founding fathers—not with so many diverse groups affected by the institution in so many different ways.

The omnipresence of slavery also meant that its politics extended beyond Congress and the presidency, and beyond the Chesapeake and Carolina plantations—which have been the traditional focus of the politics of slavery in the early republic. As the essays here demonstrate, the issue of slavery repeatedly entered into state, regional, sectional, and international conflicts, in turn feeding into and impinging upon politics at the national level. While Rachel Hope Cleves traces the intersecting regional, national, and trans- Atlantic paths that led New England Federalists to condemn slavery on deeply moral grounds, Hammond charts the local and geopolitical conflicts that ultimately determined slavery's expansion. More broadly, this volume demonstrates the continuing influence of the Atlantic world on American history. Edward Rugemer's attention to Caribbean slave revolts; Andrew Shankman's reminder that Latin American independence shaped the thinking of American statesmen on slavery; Brian Schoen's emphasis on the At-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, John Craig, and Matthew Mason, eds. *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Footnote citation:

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds., *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation* (University of Virginia Press, 2011), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Contesting Slavery*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.55

Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821

John R. Van Atta

SELECTION	Wolf by the Ears
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 66–67 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

The several previous attempts to restrict slavery expansion into the upper part of Louisiana Territory, such as James Hillhouse's in 1804, had failed because less appeared at stake and, more important, because of their timing. In 1811, as the House considered elevating Missouri to second-stage territorial status, Pennsylvania Republican Jonathan Roberts had introduced a proposal to prohibit any further introduction of slaves, but others persuaded him that the approaching war with Britain superseded divisive concerns about slavery. Besides, westerners, already "infatuated with the spirit of opposition to the Government," needed no further incentive to revolt. The following year, Abner Lacock, another Pennsylvania Republican, had tried again, resulting in a mere seventeen House votes in favor. New Hampshire Republican Arthur Livermore, in April 1818, had proposed a constitutional amendment that would have barred admission of any more slave states, but with Alabama statehood pending, the House defeated that, too. But Missouri meant something different, partly because of when it applied and also its geographical location.

To validate slavery there would protect the institution as far as two hundred miles north from the mouth of the Ohio River, the traditional dividing point between freedom and slavery."° Beyond that, maintaining the balance in Congress between slave states and free states, a condition long considered vital to sectional peace, bore heavily on the Missouri dispute. When the Constitution went into effect in 1789, North and South had been close to even in population and wealth, with three-fifths of the slaves being counted for House representation and electoral votes. But over the following generation, economic development in the North had given that section a commanding advantage. By 1819, a free-state majority of 105 to 81 dominated the House. Southern influence in Congress had diminished at every census. In 1790, 49 southern House seats stood against 57 northern; twenty years later, only 79 to 107; and after 1820, a widened breach of 89 to 124. This meant the balance of power in the Senate, where the number of slave-state members remained equal to that of the free states, now loomed all the more critical.

After Alabama's admission, that would make twenty-two slave-state senators against twenty-two from the free states. To restrict slavery from spreading further into Missouri could shift power in both houses against the South and promise more free states to come." Further, both Tallmadge on the Republican side and Rufus King on the Federalist wanted to revisit the three-fifths-clause dispute. That constitutional provision had been the other wellspring of southern influence in national politics, and slave-state forces would meet this new attack with all the venom they could muster. Earlier elitist assumptions that had justified extra power for slaveholders as a check against challenges to their authority from below no longer commanded the ideological sway they had in the 1780s. The notion that a stable republic depended so much on government protection of the propertied groups could not hold up in an age of increasingly democratic politics and emerging free-labor political economy. The offending clause mattered in close presidential elections and tight congressional roll calls. It had put Jefferson in the White House and launched the "Virginia Dynasty" that many northern Republicans now resented.

Voices from the North, opposing the three-fifths rule and preferring that no slaves be counted for representative purposes, now asked whether the clause needed to apply at all in new states west of the Mississippi. Besides, stopping slavery at the great river would make repeal of the three-fifths clause inevitable after enough western free states entered the Union. With that aggressive northern supermajority, slavery, slave-state self-determination, planter-class authority, and white

Philip P. Barbour retorted that if the three-fifths compromise in 1787 did not apply to the new states, then neither did the other critical compromises apiece."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Van Atta, John R. *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

John R. Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015), 66–67.

Shortened citation:

Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears*, 66–67.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.56

The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860

Leonard L. Richards

SELECTION	The Slave Power
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 54–55 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

In the end, whether Tallmadge was a maverick or the tool of DeWitt Clinton hardly matters. What is striking is the number of free-state politicians who quickly rallied to Tallmadge's side. In 1818 he had tried to block statehood for Illinois because the Illinois Constitution failed to completely outlaw slavery. Only thirty-four representatives voted with him then. Yet a year later, in calling for limitations on slavery in Missouri, he had the immediate backing of seventy-nine representatives. After a heated and often bloodthirsty debate, the House passed his amendment, with eighty-seven mem¬ bers voting to prohibit the further introduction of slavery into Missouri, and eighty-two voting to free all slave children born after Missouri became a state. On the first clause all but ten free-state rep¬ resentatives voted with Tallmadge, on the second, all but fourteen.

Most of these supporters were northern members of Jefferson's own party. They generally called themselves Republicans, a name that the followers of Lincoln and Seward would later appropriate be¬ cause it had a nice Jeffersonian ring to it. But unlike their name¬ sakes, these original northern Republicans were members of a party with deeper roots in the South than in the North. Nearly all were well aware of this fact. Many had little or no love for Clinton. Most detested Federalists. Yet, after Tallmadge left Congress and returned to Poughkeepsie, many of them teamed up with arch-Federalist Rufus King to fight the admission of Missouri as a slave state. So, for nearly two years, the most divisive issues of the day—the future of slavery and the inordinate power of the South in national affairs— dominated the political agenda. Why did that happen? And why were so many northern Republicans willing to allow that to happen? of heart and accept Gouverneur Morris's indictment of the threefifths rule, so did many northern Republicans.

Time had proved that Morris was basically right. The direct tax provision of the three-fifths clause turned out to be almost meaning¬ less, and accordingly all the three-fifths clause really did was give the slave states more power. As Morris predicted, the new federal govern¬ ment under the Constitution depended on import duties for the lion's share of its income, and northerners paid the hon's share of the duties. Direct taxes, from the outset, were dismissed as unpopular, cumber¬ some, and impossible to enforce. For every dollar raised through direct taxes, it was argued, three or four could be raised through import du¬ ties for the same cost and three times as fast.

Only when the import trade was threatened by war did the federal government even consider direct taxes. In 1798 it appeared that the United States would soon be at war with France, and as a result many in Congress thought it dangerous for the federal treasury to be totally dependent on import duties. So Congress, with much grum¬ bling, agreed to a direct tax of two million dollars. Similarly, during the War of 1812 the Madison administration desperately needed money, and Congress imposed direct taxes of three million dollars in

1813, six million dollars in 1814, and three million dollars in 1815. According to northern congressmen, the slave states were slow in paying their share of the bill, and in some cases they did not pay at all. Kentucky was accused of paying only one-tenth of the money it owed, and South Carolina and Georgia were accused of paying "not even a single cent."7 All in all, Congress resorted to direct taxes only four times in the seventy-two years between Washington's election and Lincoln's. In the other sixty-eight years direct taxes were neither enacted nor even seriously discussed.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Richards, Leonard L. *The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

Leonard L. Richards, *The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860* (Louisiana State University Press, 2000), 54–55.

Shortened citation:

Richards, *The Slave Power*, 54–55.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.57

Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic

Matthew Mason

SELECTION	THE MISSOURI CRISIS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2006.

Excerpt

Hartford Convention label from themselves to their foes. Duane, for instance, railed against Southern attempts to carry the Missouri Compromise “by menace” of civil war and disunion. “The Hartford Convention,” he concluded, “finds its counterpart in crime and contempt, in this case.”'* A Western sheet published a roster of the doughfaces, whose “names will be recorded on the same black page with those of the members of the Hartford Convention.”!”” Moderates nurtured partisanship as sectionalism eclipsed it because they recognized that sectional parties posed a greater danger to the health of the Union than traditional parties. Senator James Barbour of Virginia argued that heretofore the political parties had been “comparatively harmless. Such will not be the case when you divide by latitudes.” In the “collisions” of such parties, “the Union will shake to its foundations.”!°° In 1820, James Madison hoped for a heated tariff debate in Congress, for it would “divide the nation in so checkered a manner, that its issue” could not be as “serious” as the Missouri scare.!°’ Southern Republicans fretted most about sectional parties,'*’ knowing a solely Southern party would be a minority.

So dominant were the warnings against a Northern sectional party that a Massachusetts Republican complained that no one seemed to consider the South’s unity threatening. “In the South,” he pointed out, “you behold eleven states, all contiguous, some proud and aspiring, all united to a man. In this unanimity there seems to be perceived no danger.” '!°’ Preserving the Union at all costs was the cry of moderates, but the costs seemed always to be billed to Northerners. Another Bay Stater noted that the South voted unanimously for extension, “and then are struck with horror at our giving this question a geographical distinction.”!'° Even as mainstream Republican Unionists capitalized on the Hartford Convention, they also revisited the tactics they had used to counter the Federalists’ assault on slave representation in the years leading up to the Hartford meeting. During the Missouri controversy, as during the War of 1812, few directly defended the three-fifths clause."! Instead, they exploited Washington’s Farewell Address. In 1820, for instance, a Savannah printer issued an editorial admonishing restrictionists that “to sow the seeds of jealousy and disunion” was “but little better than éreason.”

“All good citizens,” he preached, must “ ‘frown indignantly’ upon” the instigators of strife, “so long as they reverence the warning 2] voice of... Washington.”!'? Boston’s Independent Chronicle printed a rebuke to the fomenters of sectional discord under the headline “Washington’s Farewell Address.”!'* As they had during the war, those seeking to parry blows against slavery also invoked the blessings of the Union."* This was an effective tactic that restrictionists felt their vulnerability to.!!° question in the Missouri debates. The sheer volume of these protestations suggests how desperately the moderates were seeking to make the contest one they could win. Northern doughfaces, who faced an irate constituency, had the greatest need to define the subject in this fashion. But Southern representatives who were not yet willing to defend slavery to the fullest, and all those who knew the divisive power of slavery in politics, had strong incentives to try to remove chattel bondage from the discussion. The antirestrictionists repeatedly pled that the crux of the matter was not the existence of American slavery, but whether to bottle slaves up in the Southeast.

The editor of the Independent Chronicle grew exasperated with polemicists who made as if the debate was over whether slavery would increase in the United States. “Once for all,” he groaned, “no such question is presented.... The question concerns only the diffusion or the concentration of the slaves now in the country.” No one—least of all this printer—was advocating slavery or its aggrandizement.'!° Another antirestrictionist argument was that the real issue was equal rights and freedom of choice for white Missourians and migrating slaveholders. No matter how much he

abhorred slavery, the plea went, he could not countenance this usurpation of free citizens' rights. "If congress can... trammel or control the powers of a territory in the formation of a state government," proclaimed Kentucky's state legislature, it "may, on the same principles, reduce its powers to little more than those possessed by the people of the District of Columbia, and whilst professing to make it a sovereign state may bind it in perpetual vassalage." The legislators specifically refrained "from expressing any opinion either in favor or against the principles of slavery." 'They acted merely "to support and maintain state rights."'7 A Massachusetts doughface assured his constituents that his vote against restriction was an antislavery measure. He asserted that "if congress has the power of limiting the exercise of sovereignty in a new state, what shall prevent it from stretching its prerogative over the sovereignty of an old one?" Would Massachusetts "have borne to have had congress say to her, 'you shall not abolish slavery'? He, for one, could not have, for he detested "s/avery, in any form, as much as any man."!'® The sum and substance of the creed of the doughface and Southern moderate, then, was that they stood not for slavery, but for the Constitution and Union, whose maintenance was the heart of the Missouri matter. "Slavery would be a less evil," a Boston editor pronounced, "than would be a spirit of acrimony and hostility between different sections of the Union."'" John

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Mason, Matthew. *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Matthew Mason, *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic* (University of North Carolina Press, 2006), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Mason, *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.58

Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America

Padraig Riley

SELECTION	ntroduction. North of Jefferson
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 12–13 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

Once again, however, national ideological unity broke down over the practical politics of slavery. The final chapter of this book traces the congressional conflict of 1819–1821 over the expansion of slavery to the new state of Missouri. In contrast to Republican nationalism during the War of 1812, the Missouri Crisis appears much as Jefferson described it, as an alarming interruption in national political life. But the Missouri Crisis was also the culmination of a long Jeffersonian argument about the power of slavery in the United States. A debate that began over the expansion of slavery to the West became a referendum on Jeffersonian democracy, American nationalism, and slaveholder power.

The Missouri Crisis presented northern Republicans with a dilemma at once ideological and historical. Northern Republicans tried to use Jeffersonian nationalism to restrict slavery expansion by arguing that the founding ideals of the United States were opposed to slaveholder power. But they faced a contending nationalist argument that stressed the protection of slavery as the price of Union and celebrated the expansion of American sovereignty under Republican rule. That counterargument was persuasive in good part because northern Jeffersonians had often accommodated slaveholder power in the past. Republican advocates of restriction were defeated, in other words, by their own ideological commitments, which had tolerated a major expansion of American slavery during two decades of Jeffersonian rule. During the Missouri Crisis, northerners took a stronger stance against slavery than they ever had before. But they did so in a political context where nationalism, the American nation-state, and the economic power of slaveholders were far stronger than they had been previously. Thus in addition to the difficulty of confronting slaveholder power, northern Jeffersonians faced the more complicated task of confronting their contradictory history as democrats in a slaveholding republic.

The Missouri Crisis had no decisive conclusion in northern political thought, and it left a divided legacy for the antebellum era. Antislavery northerners left the Missouri Crisis bitter at southern defenses of slaveholder power, but also confident in their commitments to the American nation and the core democratic principles of Jeffersonian politics. Other northerners, in contrast, responded to the Missouri Crisis and especially its final phase, which focused on the rights of free African Americans, by endorsing a racist consensus in which the political union of the United States and the political rights of white men required the subordination of black Americans, free and enslaved. As the Missouri Crisis concluded, moreover, New York's Martin Van Buren began early attempts to revive the Jeffersonian coalition, thus setting in motion a renewed North-South partnership that would flourish by the late 1820s, with the rise of Jacksonian democracy.[19]

While this book ends as antebellum politics begins, it also looks beyond the Jacksonian era to a longer, deeper, and ongoing story about the relationship between democratic freedom, oppression, and power in the United States. Ultimately, it explores a problem raised in a starker form by antebellum abolitionists and especially by escaped slaves who joined the antislavery struggle: why did nonslaveholders tolerate the existence of slavery? And how could they be persuaded to oppose to it? As Frederick Douglass told a British audience in March of 1847, "the northern states claim to be exempt from all responsibility in the matter of the slaveholding of America… but this is a mere subterfuge." In fact, northerners buttressed slaveholder power by supporting the United States Constitution, while their "deep prejudice against the coloured man" constricted African American freedom. Upon returning to the United States a few months later, Douglass bitterly noted:

I have no love for America, as such; I have no patriotism. I have no country. What country have I? The institutions of this country do not know me, do not recognize me as a man. I am not thought of, or spoken of, except as a piece of property belonging to some Christian slaveholder, and all the religious and political institutions of this country, alike pronounce me a slave and a chattel.

As Douglass was well aware, abolishing slavery would require overturning that state of affairs, so that a slave could become a man. There was far more at stake in that transformation than a physical contest with mastery. Abolition would require non-slaveholders to reject the legitimacy of slaveholder power and to accept the legitimacy of Frederick Douglass and other African Americans as equal political subjects. That effectively meant reconstructing a democratic culture that had been built through the toleration of slaveholding authority.[20]

Author's Notes

19. Robert Pierce Forbes, The Missouri Compromise and Its Aftermath: Slavery and the Meaning of America (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press 2007); Richard Brown, "The Missouri Crisis, Slavery, and the Politics of Jacksonianism," South Atlantic Quarterly 65 (Winter 1966): 55–72.

20. Frederick Douglass, "Farewell Speech to the British People" and "The Right to Criticize American Institutions" in Frederick Douglass: Selected Speeches and Writings ed. Philip S. Foner and Yuval Taylor (Chicago: Lawrence Hill Books, 1999), quotes at 58, 77.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Riley, Padraig. *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Padraig Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 12–13.

Shortened citation:

Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience*, 12–13.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.59

The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery

Don E. Fehrenbacher

SELECTION	O the slaveholding republic
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 264–265 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Excerpt

In the House, northern members, mostly Republicans, voted almost 9 to 1 for the Tallmadge amendment.[35] In the Senate, southerners were con- fident that they had the votes to kill the measure. Yet even in that chamber, the constitutional assault against the slaveholding republic continued. Senator Rufus King, a surviving framer of the Constitution, attested that the territories clause (Article IV, Section 3) empowered Congress to establish special conditions for admission of new states into the Union. In 1812, he said, Congress had demanded that Louisiana accept both trial by jury and English as the official language. Holding Missouri to special conditions relating to slavery was of no different order.[36] Outside of Congress, John Jay, also a northern Founding Father of renown, offered an ingenious constitutional argument. Focusing on Article I, Section 9, paragraph 1, relating to Congress's power to restrict the importation of slaves after 1808, he claimed that Congress could ban the importation of slaves into the state of Missouri specifically.[37] In the House, John W. Taylor, also of New York, extended this logic to claim congressional power over any and all interstate traffic in slaves.[38] Justice Joseph Story and Senator Benjamin Ruggles of Ohio both added that the commerce power, located in Article I, Section 8, by itself was sufficient to this end.[39]

Seeing their section under attack, surviving southern Founding Fathers could not long remain silent. James Madison and Charles Pinckney stressed that the Constitutional Convention had not authorized any extraordinary congressional control over slavery.[40] Thomas Jefferson, although not a participant in the Convention of 1787, likewise recoiled against all of the northern constitutional innovations spawned by the Missouri crisis. As for the expansion of slavery that he had once opposed, Jefferson adopted the argument that "diffusion" of the institution in the West would not increase the total number of slaves and "would make them individually happier and facilitate their eventual emancipation." New York's John W. Taylor responded to this weak line of southern defense by branding the rationale a "counterfeit" method of seeking "to palliate disease by the applications of nostrums... which saves a finger today, but amputates the arm tomorrow."[41]

Despite such individual resistance to southern perceptions, the true character of the northern position became obvious when Tallmadge and his allies made no attempt to block the admission of Alabama as a slave state late in 1819.The creation of Arkansas Territory earlier in the year with no restriction placed on slavery had provided an indication that northern animus toward the institution weakened when more southern regions were under discussion. The distinction between Alabama and Missouri made sense from a practical standpoint, given that Alabama was surrounded by slave states and already held a slave population four times greater than that of Missouri; but if a new slaveholding state in the Deep South did not violate the guarantee clause, then how could one from more northern latitudes?

The collapse of northern resistance concerning Alabama served to signal a return to moderation, a precondition for any eventual compromise. A settlement was attempted by linking Missouri and Maine's dual admission, which balanced the addition of one slave state with one that was free.The bill had solid southern support and enough northern acquiescence to give it a chance, but in the end this attempt by itself failed to resolve the matter. Eventually, threats from southern disunionists drove enough wavering northerners toward a final solution. An amendment

offered by Representative Jesse B. Thomas of Illinois to divide the rest of the Louisiana Purchase at 36° 30' latitude, with slavery prohibited north of that line, ultimately completed the settlement. In the end, Maine served as a counterweight to Missouri, and the future course of slavery in what was then the American West was determined.

A second Missouri Compromise, this one occurring in 1821 over the issue of whether Missouri had the authority to bar the entry of free blacks into the new state, basically obfuscated the question at hand simply to restore peace. By that point, antislavery fervor in Congress was spent, and the relative calm that earlier had characterized congressional discourse on slavery returned. Nevertheless, the constitutional logic of the antislavery position permanently affected the collective memory, especially that of southerners. Thereafter, southerners periodically questioned whether the Union itself could long endure. Increasingly, they looked at any congressional power over slavery, even in the federal territories where that authority was well founded, with great suspicion. This supersensitivity on the topic of slavery persuaded a number of northerners to shelve their antislavery views. While extreme constitutional arguments continued in abolitionist pamphlets, such expressions largely disappeared from the speeches of northern congressmen. Occasionally, sporadic flare-ups in Congress were forced by antislavery radicals exercising the right of petition. But generally, the North seemed satisfied that slavery's trans-Mississippi northward advance had been halted and cared little to revisit the subject.

Author's Notes

35. Donnan, Slave Trade, IV:519–20. By 1807, there was more support in lowcountry than in up-country South Carolina for continuation of foreign slave importations, apparently because of mercantile investment in the revived trade. See Brady, "Slave Trade and Sectionalism," 613–14.

36. Herman V. Ames, The Proposed Amendments to the Constitution of the United States During the First Century of Its History, Annual Report of the American Historical Association for the Year 1896, Vol. II (Washington, D.C.: Government Printing Office, 1897), 208–9, 326, 327, 328.

37. AC, 8 Cong., 1 sess., 820.

38. Ibid., 992–1036. Sectional alignments are revealed in roll-call votes on two motions to postpone further consideration until the next session of Congress. The motions were defeated, 62 to 54 and 62 to 55. Ibid., 1020, 1035–36.

39. Ibid., 1020, 1036; HJ, 8 Cong., 1 sess., 434–35; Ohline, "Politics and Slavery," 402–3.

40. AC, 8 Cong., 2 sess., 313; 9 Cong., 1 sess., 272–73, 274, 323, 346–52, 358–75, 397, 434–40, 442–44; HJ, 9 Cong., 1 sess., 197–99, 200–201, 229–30, 252–53, 288–90, 299, 362; Du Bois, Suppression, 91–92.

41. In December 1805, for example, David R. Williams moved postponement of the ten-dollar tax proposal, saying that the South Carolina legislature was considering and would probably pass a measure to reinstall prohibition. AC, 9 Cong., 1 sess., 274.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fehrenbacher, Don E. *The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery*. Completed and edited by Ward M. McAfee. New York: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Don E. Fehrenbacher, *The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery* (Oxford University Press, 2001), 264–265.

Shortened citation:

Fehrenbacher, *The Slaveholding Republic*, 264–265.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.60

Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President

James C. Klotter

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 45–46 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Excerpt

When a new Congress assembled in late 1819, the unresolved issue emerged once again, producing an equally furious and divisive debate. Then-☐Speaker Clay reportedly advised Missouri to insert a provision in its constitution for gradual emancipation, but when the territory showed little inclination to do that, he had to find another way to end what he saw as a very real and very growing threat to the existence of a country not a half century old. In January 1820, he wrote that the debate had been started "for the purpose of arraying one portion of the U. States against another; and there is some reason to apprehend that this sinister design may be effected." That same month, he concluded that the Missouri question dominated all conversation: "The words, civil war, and disunion, are uttered almost without emotion."[66]

When Senator Jesse Thomas of Illinois proposed a compromise that same month, Clay began to hope that the controversy might end, even if he did not agree with much of what Thomas proposed. But if no solu tion arose, the "ultras" of both sections would begin to form the "worst of all parties," a sectional one, and disunion would soon become a reality. The Thomas Compromise offered Missouri's admission as a slave state, Maine's as a free one, while it made all the rest of the territory north of 36°30′ free, the part south of the line slave. Clay predicted that with "the subject of disunion... discussed in circles with freedom and familiarity," the compromise bill would fail. It did. Then, with members exhausted by the all-☐consuming debates, Clay took charge. Now, for the sake of concili ation, he turned to support what Thomas proposed. Openly, Clay made an emotional speech that, according to a New York newspaper, left "half the House in tears." Behind the scenes, the Kentuckian lobbied, manipulated, and persuaded. One congressman reported, "He begs, entreats, adjures, supplicates, & beseeches us." As he had as a lawyer back in Kentucky, Clay did what the situation demanded to win. And as he had learned earlier in the state legislature, he also changed tactics as needed. When conflicting bills passed each house, he arranged for a joint conference committee of moderate members favorable to a settlement. With the need to switch only a few votes, Clay successfully piloted a resolution to the impasse. If Thomas had provided the vehicle for the compromise, Clay had driven it through. His will and his skill resulted in passage of the compromise in March 1820. The crisis seemed over. A fatigued Speaker wrote a Kentucky friend that he had "employed my best exertions to produce this settlement of the question.... The question thus put to rest will I hope leave no bad consequences."[67]

Those events had occurred as the panic raged around Clay and as he had fought for his own financial life. So, flushed with the victory of the com promise, a tired Clay had made his May 1820 announcement that he would not seek reelection. But the Missouri question had not been settled, after all, and seemingly would not rest. When Missouri inserted a section into its constitution that would prohibit the migration of free blacks once it be came a state, it reopened the entire issue of statehood and the compromise itself, and began what became an even more serious threat to the health of the Union.

Article 4, Section 2, of the US Constitution declares, "The Citizen of each State shall be entitled to all Privileges and Immunities of Citizens in the several States." Because free blacks were citizens (if often second-☐class ones), Missouri's restrictions on them seemed to violate that federal protection clause. Moderates who had agreed to the earlier compromise felt betrayed. A Washington journalist advised the still-☐distant Clay back in Bluegrass country that "the second Missouri Campaign has begun." Watching from afar, Clay indicated that Missouri's actions "could hardly be defended" and considered them an insult to Congress. Moreover, by including that offending section in its constitution, Missouri brought its own legal status into question. Was it already a state, or still a territory? Could Congress stop the process and rescind its earlier action? Adding to the confusion, with Clay having stepped down as

Speaker, the House seemed leaderless. It had taken the body twenty-☐two ballots just to select his successor. Adams had written earlier that "the Missouri question is indeed a flaming sword that waves round on all sides and cuts in every direction." Sectionalism continued rampant, as southerners called for admission of Missouri, to fulfill the first compromise, based on the Thomas amendment. In turn, northerners called for rejection of the statehood act, since the compromise had been violated.

Author's Notes

65. Major Wilson, Space,Time, and Freedom: The Quest for Nationality and the Irrepressible Conflict, 1815–☐1861 (Westport, CT: Greenwood, 1974), 51; Dangerfield, Era of Good Feelings, 175, 204; Feller, Public Lands, 24–☐ 25; Forbes, Missouri Compromise, 5, 35–☐36, 43, 47; Glover Moore, The Missouri Controversy, 1819–☐1821 (Lexington: University of Kentucky Press, 1953) 36; Richard Brown, "The Missouri Crisis, Slavery, and the Politics of Jacksonianism," South Atlantic Quarterly 65 (1966): 55; Matthew Mason, Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006), 8; AC, 15th Cong., 2nd Sess. (1818–☐19), 1204; William Freehling, The Road to Disunion: Secessionists at Bay, 1776–☐ 1854 (New York: Oxford University Press, 1990), 149.

66. AC, 16th Cong, 1st Sess. (1819–☐20), 704; Moore, Missouri Controversy, 94; Speech on the Missouri Bill, Clay to Amos Kendall, January 8, 1820, and Clay to Adam Beatty, January 22, 1820, all in CP, 2:777, 752, 766.

67. Moore, Missouri Controversy, 88, 95, 102–☐103; John Van Atta, Wolf by the Ears: The Misssouri Crisis, 1819–☐1821 (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015), 98–☐100; AC, 16th Cong., 1st Sess. (1819–☐20), 835–☐42; Clay to John J. Crittenden, January 29, 1820, Clay to Martin Hardin, February 5, 1820, Clay to Leslie Combs, February 5 and 15, 1820, and Clay to Horace Holley, February 17, 1820, all in CP, 2:769, 775, 774, 780, 781; Alfred Lightfoot, "Henry Clay and the Missouri Question, 1819–☐1821," 485

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Klotter, James C. *Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Footnote citation:

James C. Klotter, *Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President* (Oxford University Press, 2018), 45–46.

Shortened citation:

Klotter, *Henry Clay*, 45–46.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.61

Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds.

SELECTION	John Craig Hammond
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 146–147 · Supplied edition: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Excerpt

tied together in the Southwest. The letters instructed Ellicott to inform the white inhabitants of the territory that Congress had made it official: they "may keep slaves." A few months later, Pickering informed the designated governor, Federalist Winthrop Sargent, that Congress had permitted slavery in Mississippi because "almost all of the inhabitants are possessed of slaves." The connection between slavery expansion and securing the American Union came together one last time in Sargent's inaugural address, in which he explained that the United States had permitted slavery, "in special indulgence to the people of this territory.""[9] Five years later, the Louisiana Purchase brought the conflict between limiting Western slavery and securing the Lower Mississippi Valley to a head. At the time of the Purchase, Louisiana was in the midst of an unprecedented plantation boom. As every planter, farmer, merchant, and American agent in Louisiana understood, the plantation boom could be sustained only with uninterrupted access to the slave trade. In Natchez, Congress had granted local whites' demands that the United States sanction slavery.

Yet with the Louisiana Purchase, Congress sought to strangle the budding plantation revolution by cutting off access to slave labor entirely. In 1804, a Republican-controlled Congress placed severe restrictions on slavery in the Louisiana Purchase. The 1804 Territorial Ordinances outlawed both the international and domestic slave trades and placed strict conditions on the expansion of American slavery into Louisiana. The 1804 Ordinances only permitted American citizens, "removing into said Territory for actual settlement, and being, at the time of such removal, bona fide owner of such slave or slaves,' to carry slaves into Louisiana. While Americans could settle in Louisiana with the slaves they already owned, they were prohibited from selling their slaves in or into Louisiana, with violations punishable by immediate freedom for the slave. These intricate regulations balanced an intent to end the plantation revolution in Louisiana with Congress's desire to encourage American settlement as a means of securing Louisiana." The restrictions proved to be a resounding failure.

Louisiana planters, farmers, and merchants, along with American officials in Louisiana, all warned that disunion and reunification with France would ensue if Congress insisted on restricting white Louisianans' right to "an unlimited slavery." By the summer of 1804, the situation in Louisiana had grown so desperate that American newspapers reported that "the French at New Orleans" were "discontented, troublesome,' and on the verge of rebellion. The flurry of letters sent from American officials in New Orleans to policymakers in Washtions on the slave trade. Indeed, one American official in New Orleans counseled that repeal of the slavery restrictions "would go farther with them, and better reconcile them to the Government of the United States, than any other privilege." Congress took this advice. The 1804 Ordinances expired after one year, and in 1805 Congress quietly declined to renew the bulk of the restrictions on slavery in Louisiana. And although Congress maintained the ban on the international slave trade, slave traders skirted this restriction by having slave ships touch port at Charleston, thus "domesticating" the international slave trade before the ships moved on to New Orleans.

As was the case in Natchez, Congress found itself facing a stark choice, between permitting slavery and gaining the loyalty of the white population, or prohibiting slavery and inviting disunion." Historians have pointed out that the Missouri Controversy might have been avoided if Congress had opted to permit slavery in Louisiana, at the same time banning it in what would become Missouri." But in 1804 the "Missouri Country" constituted a booming, if small slave society, not "virgin territory" whose future could be determined by "founding fathers" in Washington. The French, British, and Native American inhabitants of Missouri had long used slave labor in their mixed-agricultural

and fur-trading economy. In the 1790s, Article VI had driven French slaveholders from Illinois into the Missouri Country, increasing the number of slaves in the region. After 1800, a substantial number of Americans seeking generous Spanish land-grants had begun crossing the Mississippi River into Missouri, adding to the number of slaveholders and aspiring slaveholders.

The expansion and consolidation of slavery in the Missouri Country was also spurred by the plantation revolutions downriver, as Missouri's new and old slaveholders gladly met the increased demand for foodstuffs and other commodities in those regions. Slaveless farmers who hoped to cash in on the boom added to the clamor for more slave labor. By 1804, Missouri's was a small, but thriving, slave society, with slaves accounting for up to one-third of the population in the main settlements at St. Louis, St. Genevieve, and Cape Girardeau."* As soon as rumors of the Louisiana Purchase reached the Missouri Country, the white inhabitants there expressed concerns that the status of slavery in the territory not be changed under American rule. American agents there immediately sent letters east warning that, "even among the Americans not slaveholders,' the white inhabitants of the Missouri Country were universally "averse" to American rule if it came with restrictions on slavery. Congress ignored these warnings, placing stiff restrictions on slavery and appointing

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, John Craig, and Matthew Mason, eds. *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Footnote citation:

John Craig Hammond and Matthew Mason, eds., *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation* (University of Virginia Press, 2011), 146–147.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Contesting Slavery*, 146–147.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.62

Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821

John R. Van Atta

SELECTION	prologue
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 1–2 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

prologue Knell of the Union?

ON FEBRUARY 13, 1820, Secretary of State John Quincy Adams and House Speaker Henry Clay walked home together from the newly reconstructed Capitol. The anxiety probably registered in their faces as well as in their words. For days, the city had been awash with rumors of disunion. The storm in Congress over the Missouri question—how, or whether, to admit the Missouri Territory to the Union as a new slave state—continued to rage without any certainty of breaking.

This crisis had begun exactly one year earlier, when New York congressman James Tallmadge had proposed an amendment to the bill to make Missouri the twenty-third member (after Alabama) of the United States. That amendment would have required the new state's constitution to ban any further entry of slaves within its borders and mandate that all human chattels born there after 1819 become free at age twenty-five. Antislavery northerners insisted that Congress had every right to deny Missouri's application if it would not accept these conditions and looked toward prohibition of slavery as a prerequisite for all further states west of the Mississippi River. Proslavery southerners replied that the Union consisted of equal states, with It was shocking to think of it, Clay told Adams, but he "had not a doubt that within five years from this time the Union would be divided into three distinct confederacies'—northern, southern, and western. Adams himself must have wondered whether his own moral obligation to oppose slavery mattered more than keeping together a Union that his father had helped to construct. Elsewhere in Washington, Secretary of War John C. Calhoun gloomily pondered that a collapse of the Union would force the South toward a defensive alliance with Great Britain, in effect returning it to a "colonial state.' Was America's "great experiment" in republicanism about to prove pathetically short lived?"

A glimmer of hope appeared on February 16, when the Senate passed, 23 to 21, a proposition to admit Maine as a free state in return for Missouri's entrance without restriction on slaveholding, but in the House the anti- Missouri majority still refused. The following day, Senator Jesse B. Thomas of Illinois introduced the compromise amendment that a majority of senators saw as the only way to end the crisis: in return for admission of Missouri on its own terms, a line at 36°30' latitude, banning further introduction of slavery in the northern part of the Louisiana Purchase. The House majority remained obdurate, but bargain making behind the scenes, including President James Monroe's subtle efforts, opened the possibility of a breakthrough. Finally, on March 2, 1820, the Thomas Amendment succeeded by a paper-thin House margin of go to 87. Only a few northerners had defected, but these votes mattered critically. "The Constitution is a creature of compromise," as one, James Stevens of Connecticut, explained; "it originated in a compromise; and has existed ever since by a perpetual extension and exercise of that principle; and must continue to do so, as long as it lasts."?

The Missouri solution thus became national policy for the decades to come, an indisputable turning point in the history of the early republic. On the volatile matter of slavery, one crisis had been met and passed. Whether others, more frightening, lay still ahead remained anyone's guess.

From the time of the Continental Congress, American leaders had understood that an unpredictable time bomb—the question of slavery—lay at the heart of national politics. During the early decades of the republic, an implicit covenant between North and South helped to keep this slavery issue at bay. That agreement was that northern states,

where slavery had been set on course for extinction via gradual emancipation, would respect the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Van Atta, John R. *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

John R. Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015), 1–2.

Shortened citation:

Van Atta, *Wolf by the Ears*, 1–2.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.63

No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	TO THE MISSOURI CRISIS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 201–202 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 2018.

Excerpt

It required all of Speaker Henry Clay's enormous political skill to fashion a two-pronged compromise. The first part, pairing the admission of Missouri with that of the newly created state of Maine, made it possible to maintain parity between slaveholding and non-slaveholding states in the Senate. The second part had its origins in the debates over Arkansas. The pro-extension congressman Louis McLane floated a suggestion that the North and South might avoid future struggles by agreeing to fix a line of latitude above which slavery would not be permitted. (That McLane's proposal would also affirm Congress's authority over slavery in the territories obtained in the Louisiana Purchase apparently bothered him not at all.) John Taylor picked up the idea and, after his antislavery Arkansas amendment was finally defeated, he proposed setting a demarcation at latitude 36° 30' across all of the Louisiana Purchase lands—a line that would have permitted slavery in Arkansas but banned it in Missouri.

The proposal went nowhere, with some congressmen grumbling that it still sanctioned slavery and others that it gave too much to the North.'°° As the Missouri stalemate worsened, the anti-restrictionist Illinois senator Jesse B. Thomas seized upon Taylor's proposal, altered it to permit slavery in Missouri (which lay above 36° 30'), and presented it to the Senate as a compromise amendment. In exchange for admitting Missouri with slavery, Congress would repudiate the southern zealots' absolutist view of property in slaves under the Constitution and acknowledge its own authority over slavery in the territories obtained in the Louisiana Purchase. The proposal showed how far the tislavery northerners a concession on the exercise of a specific congressional power that until the Missouri debates had not been seriously challenged. Yet the most determined hard-liners, now convinced of the righteousness as well as the constitutional correctness of their position, also rejected the bargain as, in the words of the Old Republican senator Nathaniel Macon of North Carolina, "acknowledging too much."

Macon and a handful of recalcitrants held out as long as they could— Macon until the bitter end—but the Senate approved the Thomas proposal handily with virtually universal northern support. Then it approved the amended bill by a much smaller margin—the latter vote a mark of how deeply the Missouri issue divided the sections.'°* Speaker Clay and his lieutenants immediately went to work in the House. Seeing the closeness of the final vote in the Senate, which was 24 to 20, Clay now shrewdly divided the two halves of the compromise. After a touchand-go negotiation, the House finally approved, by a three-vote margin, Missouri statehood without restriction of slavery, then passed Thomas's 36° 30 amendment by a much larger margin. As if to add an exclamation point to Thomas's amendment, the House and Senate agreed to specify that its purpose was "to prohibit slavery in certain Nerritoriesiae The so-called Missouri Compromise was really more of a wellmanaged bargain, breaking the logjam while allowing the most determined antislavery and proslavery forces to vote their beliefs.

On the constitutional issues at the heart of the fight, Congress appeared to split the difference, abjuring the authority to block a state's admission over slavery while affirming its authority over slavery in the territories— including, contrary to the "equal advantages" argument, Louisiana Territory. In effect, the compromise shored up the paradox of 1787 by protecting slavery as a local institution while also denying it protection in national law. Yet the sectional differences remained deep: despite crucial defections, northern congressmen had voted 87 to 14 against slavery in Missouri, while only a bare majority of slave state congressmen had supported Thomas's amendment." The crisis had

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2018.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding* (Harvard University Press, 2018), 201–202.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *No Property in Man*, 201–202.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.64

The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830

Arthur Preston Whitaker

SELECTION	THE UNITED STATES AND LATIN AMERICA
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 378–379 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins Press, 1941.

Excerpt

them, or, as Monroe might have expressed it a year and a half later, to set the American system against the European system. Since it was also the purpose of Monroe in recognizing the new states at this time to promote " the establishment of free republican governments '" among them, it is not a little remarkable that the first of the new governments to which he proposed to send a minister, and perhaps the only one, he said,15 to which a minister would be sent for some time to come, was precisely the government of Mexico. This was remarkable partly because Mexico was the newest and least known of the new states and consequently the one whose fitness for recognition was most debatable. It was remarkable still more because one of the few things known about the new regime in Mexico was that it was monarchical. This paradox may seem puzzling. In reality, it only helps to clarify Monroe's policy.

In the first place, it furnishes additional evidence that national interest, not political idealism, was the mainspring of that policy: however much Monroe might desire to see republican governments established in the new states, his first purpose was to maintain "friendly relations" with them, whether they were republics or monarchies. In the second place, it suggests that he was all the more willing to tolerate monarchies among them at the outset because he believed that ultimately they would all become republican. Even when the Mexicans, unable to find a European prince for their throne, made Agustin Iturbide their emperor, Monroe did not lose heart. 'The prospect is discouraging for the present,' he wrote on August 25, 1822, "but I have no doubt that he [Iturbide} will find it necessary to change his course & relinquish all pretention to hereditary power, or be finally driven from it, & perhaps from the country." 1 The same issue was to be raised again in 1824 in the case of Brazil,17 which also had a monarchical government.

Again the administration at Washington refused to let the form of government stand in the way of recognition. And again it showed its confidence that any tendency on the part of the Latin Americans to run after the false gods of monarchy would be corrected by the free genius of America. Thus, even Adams wrote in May 1823 that he expected the Montevideo question to embroil republican Buenos Aires and monarchical Brazil in the near future; "and then will soon be seen,"' he continued triumphantly, " that the republican hemisphere will endure neither emperor nor king upon its shores." To be sure, this expression of mystical faith in the republican destiny of Latin America does not sound a bit like John Quincy Adams and was probably dictated by Monroe. If that was the case, the fact gives added support to the present interpretation of American policy, for it reminds us of another fact which has been too often overlooked but which seems hardly open to serious question, namely, that the administration's Latin American policy was Monroe's

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Whitaker, Arthur Preston. *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins Press, 1941.

Footnote citation:

Arthur Preston Whitaker, *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830* (Johns Hopkins Press, 1941), 378–379.

Shortened citation:

Whitaker, *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830*, 378–379.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.65

Our Sister Republics: The United States in an Age of American Revolutions

Caitlin Fitz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 12–13 · Supplied edition: Liveright Publishing Corporation (W. W. Norton), 2016.

Excerpt

equal creation, everyday citizens rarely left much of a paper trail. But when it came to their views about foreign revolutions, common white men (and sometimes women and people of color, too) repeatedly left their mark in toasts, baby names, musical selections, and sartorial flair. Some of these clues can be counted and tracked through space and across time; especially when considered alongside newspaper reports and congressional votes, they can serve as a crude measuring stick not just for popular views about foreign revolutions, but also for popular thinking about race, nationalism, equality, and territorial expansion. Ordinary people's responses to Latin American independence reveal the possibilities as well as the limits of egalitarian thinking in the early United States, and they help to show how revolutionary-era universalism found growing competition from a newer rhetoric of white U.S. exceptionalism. Leading policymakers like James Monroe, John Quincy Adams, and Henry Clay played important roles in this inter-American revolutionary drama, their deeds at once reflecting and shaping the views of ordinary voters.

If we are to understand all that Latin American independence has to reveal about the early United States, however, high-stakes diplomacy and high-rolling commerce must be placed alongside less famous (if not always less humble) actors. Actors like Elizabeth and Aylett Buckner, Kentucky farmers who named their son after a Spanish-speaking revolutionary some 2,000 miles away; Emiliano Mundrucu, a mulato revolutionary who fled from South America to the United States and informed the antislavery movement at a crucial moment; and James Rodgers, a headstrong New York adventurer who attacked royalist troops abroad and died at the hands of a Brazilian firing squad. Their collective stories emerge through research in Portuguese, Spanish, French, and English, and from archives throughout the hemisphere, manuscripted memorials to the inter-American horizons that shaped these people's lives. What results is less a history of early U.S. relations with Latin America than it is a U.S. history that uses Latin America to cast new light on the United States.

Despite the work of its revolutionary agents, Latin America didn't intentionally and directly transform the United States, and the United States' influence throughout Latin America was smaller than most U.S. patriots— and some Latin Americans—had hoped it would be. As U.S. audiences crowed about rights and revolution, however, Latin America became a mirror that crystallized and clarified what was at stake. For over a decade, most U.S. patriots had looked proudly to Latin America and seen themselves: republicans, revolutionaries, Americans. In 1826, the heat of emergent party politics started to warp that international looking-glass, transforming it into something more like a funhouse mirror that reflected different images back to different people depending on where those people stood and how they carried themselves. As U.S. observers realized that they saw different reflections—as they realized that they had different understandings of revolutions both foreign and domestic—they started to conclude that they were different people with different goals and different values. That realization facilitated their division into parties, much as the French Revolution had polarized the nation into Republicans and Federalists to an even greater degree one generation before.

Mirror, mirror on the wall, who is the fairest of them all? As some in the embryonic Democratic coalition saw it, Spanish America was fair by neither of the standard definitions: its revolutionaries were darker-skinned, and their antislavery efforts were certainly not going to bring justice to U.S. slaveholders." Support for the uprisings in Spanish America and Brazil thus turned out to follow much the same bell-curved trajectory as had responses to France several decades before, rising amid a period of heady optimism and then falling amid angry partisan warfare—

although the bell curve for Latin America had a longer plateau that inspired more united support, coinciding as it did with a decade that was largely devoid of nationwide partisanship. Still, attitudes

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fitz, Caitlin. *Our Sister Republics: The United States in an Age of American Revolutions*. New York: Liveright, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Caitlin Fitz, *Our Sister Republics: The United States in an Age of American Revolutions* (Liveright Publishing Corporation (W. W. Norton), 2016), 12–13.

Shortened citation:

Fitz, *Our Sister Republics*, 12–13.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.66

The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826

Dexter Perkins

SELECTION	THE WARNING TO EUROPE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 95–96 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1927.

Excerpt

We would not sanction by our presence [wrote Adams], any meeting of European Potentates to dispose of American Republics. We shall, if such meeting should take place... solemnly protest against it, and against all the melancholy and calamitous consequences which may result from it.®

In these words the dispatch to Rush supplements the answer to Tuyll and the language of the message itself.

By December, 1823, therefore, the policy of the United States on the colonial question had, in all respects, in public message and private diplomatic correspondence alike, been accurately defined. Before taking leave, however, of this formative period in the history of the Monroe Doctrine, it may be well briefly to survey an historic controversy hitherto omitted from consideration, that is, the controversy as to its authorship. In the literal and verbal sense, of course, there is no doubt that the Doctrine was the President's. Moreover, it is not to be forgotten that it was on his initiative, very clearly, that it was decided to deal with the South American question in the forthcoming message to Congress. But, grant all this, and there remains the broader question of credit for the ideas which the message contained, for the clear line which it drew between the New World and the Old, for its emphasis on the rival political systems of Europe and America, for its militant republicanism and proscription of monarchy from the New World.® On this side of the matter, there have been many different expressions of opinion. Charles Sumner once wrote that George Canning was "the inventor, promoter and monarchy of the type then existing in most of Continental Europe. He had more than once shown his sympathy with the constitutional movements in the Old World, and had, as has already been seen, wished to condemn their repression. In the background of the discussions of 1823, behind the fear of intervention for the reconquest of the colonies, there lurked another idea, the fear of the establishment of monarchical governments in the New World under European tutelage. As early as

1820 there had been an exposure of a French plan to set up a Bourbon prince in La Plata (for this intrigue, see Villanueva, Bolivar y El General San Martin (Paris,

1912], pp. 89-160, also postea, pp.107, 108), and these facts were known to Adams; in 1821, Torres, the Colombian agent in Philadelphia, had warned of a similar project to be attempted in the case of Mexico (American State Papers, Foreign Relations, iv, 835); and in 1822, the presence of French agents in the New World seemed to suggest that some monarchical intrigue was still being pressed from the other side of the water. (See postea, p. 108.) In his instructions to Rodney, the American minister sent out to La Plata in the spring of 1823, Adams had mentioned the project of Bourbon monarchies, to condemn it, not, of course, on theoretical grounds,— theoretical opposition to monarchy was far from the Adams temper, — but as dangerous to the interests of the United States. (Adams, Writings, vii, 426-432.)

It is entirely probable that the President, who closely supervised the drafting of the more important dispatches, knew of and approved this stand.

It is true that the word "system," in the parlance of 1823, might be used to describe either a form of government or a general principle of international policy. Monroe uses the word in both senses in his writings. But that he meant the first and not the second when he used the word in the message seems clear from the whole phraseology. In one sentence he declares his faith that "our southern brethren" will never adopt the European political system of their own accord. How can such a reference be otherwise construed than as a reference to monarchy? No one would have thought of the principles of the Holy Alliance as likely to be adopted by the new states, nor was there any chance that

they would accept the doctrine of intervention, so dear to Metternich and Alexander.
The difference in systems, says the President in another place, "proceeds from that which exists in their respective governments, and to the defense of our own, which has been achieved by the loss of so much blood and treasure and matured by the wisdom of our most enlightened citizens, and under which we have enjoyed unexampled felicity, the whole nation is devoted." How can such language be taken otherwise than as referring to the antagonism of republican and monarchical forms as the basis of distinction between the Old World and the New?, Consider, moreover, the language of Adams's note to Tuyll. In this note, drawn up contemporaneously with the message, and intended, in Adams's language, "'to correspond exactly" with it (Adams, Memoirs, vi, 199), the opposition to monarchical forms is expressed with absolute definiteness. The note certainly came under the eyes of Monroe. It was carefully examined by him. It must have interpreted his own thought with tolerable accuracy. In the light of it, there can be little doubt that the President did intend to ban monarchy, at least European monarchy, from the New World. By the term "political system" he may have meant more than this; but that he meant no less may be considered incontestable.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Perkins, Dexter. *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826*. Harvard Historical Studies 29. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1927.

Footnote citation:

Dexter Perkins, *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826* (Harvard University Press, 1927), 95–96.

Shortened citation:

Perkins, *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826*, 95–96.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.67

The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830

Arthur Preston Whitaker

SELECTION	""PEACE IN OUR TIME"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 425–426 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins Press, 1941.

Excerpt

The counterblast was contained in the instructions to the minister to Russia, Henry Middleton, and was to be communicated by him to the Tsar. These instructions were not sent to Middleton in the form in which Adams originally drafted them, and the circumstances under which the most important change was made are worth narrating, because they bring out a point not sufficiently appreciated by historians of this period, namely, that the important decisions on foreign policy were made not by Adams but by Monroe. In his original draft, Adams undertook to demonstrate (as an argumentum ad hominem, he said) that Russia's course was contrary to the principles of the Holy Alliance itself. Monroe objected to this passage on the ground that it might possibly be construed by readers in the United States as giving some sort of approval to the Holy Alliance. Adams replied that he had guarded against such misunderstanding by inserting in the instructions a distinct allusion to the acts of the Holy Alliance as liable to censure; but Monroe thought the guard inadequate, and Adams accordingly struck out the offending passage, though he thereby gave up what he considered "the mainspring of the argument to the Emperor." The importance that he attached to the passage is easy to understand if we keep in mind the purpose of the instructions, for there was hardly anything that would have bolstered the morale of republican America more effectively than to prove that Europe, as represented by the head of the Holy Alliance, was not even faithful to its own system. In explaining his deference to Monroe on this occasion,

* Ibid.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Whitaker, Arthur Preston. *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins Press, 1941.

Footnote citation:

Arthur Preston Whitaker, *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830* (Johns Hopkins Press, 1941), 425–426.

Shortened citation:

Whitaker, *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830*, 425–426.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.68

Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World

Charles A. Kupchan

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Oxford University Press, 2020.

Excerpt

Third, Adams, like many of his colleagues, was skeptical that independence from Spain would bring republican government to America's southern neighbors; social hierarchy, Catholicism, and mixed race were not conducive to democratic government. "So far as they are contending for independence, I wish well their cause;" Adams wrote, "but I had seen and yet see no prospect that [Latins] would establish free and liberal institutions of government." His doubts about the readiness of Latin America for republican government made Adams even more convinced that the United States should remain aloof from the region's struggles for independence. Adams concluded in his July 4 speech that the United States should be "the well-wisher to the freedom and independence of all," but "the champion and vindicator only of her own. She will recommend the general cause by the countenance of her voice, and the benignant sympathy of her example." The United States may have been destined to spread republican government to the rest of the world, but it would do so by serving as a model, not through intervention in the affairs of other countries.

Adams's views initially prevailed over those of the camp calling for greater U.S. activism, forestalling any direct support to Latin America's new republics and helping convince Monroe to withhold recognition. In 1822, however, Monroe changed course and began recognizing Latin America's newly independent countries. With Spain having effectively come to terms with the loss of its colonies—it lacked both the will and the resources to reverse their independence—Monroe, driven in part by public pressure, deemed it advantageous to move ahead with recognition. In 1823, he then laid out what later came to be known as the Monroe Doctrine, ostensibly inserting the United States more fully into hemispheric affairs. The move proved to be primarily rhetorical, however, producing little change to America's aversion to entanglement in the affairs of its southern neighbors.

It was a British initiative more than the advance of independence movements in Latin America that spurred President Monroe to embrace a more assertive policy toward the hemisphere. British trade with Latin America had benefited handsomely from Spain's setbacks, prompting London in 1823 to propose to Washington that the two countries team up to support the independence of Spain's former colonies. British foreign secretary George Canning recommended that London and Washington stand together against "the recovery of the colonies" and oppose their transfer "to any other power," effectively warning all Europeans against harboring new imperial designs on Latin America.

The proposal intrigued Monroe, who viewed it as an opportunity to extend U.S. influence in its neighborhood while promoting better relations with Britain. In addition, he saw cooperation with the British as a preventative measure against future European aggression. Monroe worried that if Europe's imperial powers took on new territories in Latin America, "they would, in the next instance, invade us." Moreover, the conservative bent of most of Europe's major powers heightened fears of European intervention in the Americas to suppress independence movements in favor of Spanish rule. At the Congress of Verona in 1822, the members of the Concert, despite British objections, approved France's intervention in Spain to put down a rebellion against the monarchy. The following year, a sizable French force invaded Spain and restored the rule of King Ferdinand VII. Against this backdrop, Monroe was tempted to pursue a pact between the United States and Britain that could make European intervention in the Americas less likely and help distance the British from the continental monarchies. Monroe, however, also saw downsides to accepting the British proposal. A joint initiative with the British would contravene the Founders' admonition against

entanglement in rivalries among Europe's great powers. It would also extend to former Spanish territories in Latin America an effective U.S. commitment to defend their independence. Undecided about how to proceed, Monroe sought the advice of two of his predecessors—Thomas Jefferson and James Madison.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kupchan, Charles A. *Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Charles A. Kupchan, *Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2020), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Kupchan, *Isolationism*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.69

Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic

Charles N. Edel

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 176–177 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 2014.

Excerpt

But before Adams could draft this paper, he had an equally important task— restraining what he saw as the president's naïve idealism. Monroe was, for the most part, a pragmatist as president, though he had never completely abandoned his Jeffersonian enthusiasms for republican revolutions. Earlier in his career, Monroe had been both a small and big "R" republican. It was Monroe who had or ga nized Citizen Genêt's tour of the United States in 1793. In 1796, George Washington recalled Monroe from France for becoming too close to the French and their revolution. Throughout his tenure as secretary of state, Monroe had looked for ways to promote South America's revolutions. And as president he was still seeking a way to advance liberty abroad. In June 1823, the president had written to Jefferson of his desire to pursue a more activist foreign policy. "Our relation to it [Eu rope] is pretty much the same, as it was, in the commencement of the French revolution. Can we, in any form, take a bolder attitude in regard to it, in favor of liberty, than we did? Can we afford greater aid to that cause, by assuming any such attitude, than we now do, by the form of our example?"

By November 1823 Monroe sensed that he had found both the form and the opportunity to strike a bolder attitude on liberty's behalf. Disturbed by the Holy Alliance's moves in Spain, Portugal, and Italy, the president worried about their possible moves in South America. Monroe wanted to use his annual message to Congress to warn that republicanism was under attack around the world, and that America must stand ready to defend its interests and its principles. In an initial draft of his text, the president dressed down France, declared Greece in de pen dent from the Ottoman Turks, and recommended sending an American minister to Athens.

The president's draft of his annual message was too much for Adams. Extremely agitated by what he read, the secretary of state argued that Monroe's support for the Greeks "would be a summons to arms— to arms against all Eu rope, and for objects of policy exclusively European— Greece and Spain. It would be new, too, in our policy as it would be surprising." History was on Adams's side, as he argued that from Washington's Farewell Address forward, the United States' policy was consciously to abstain from interfering in Eu ro pe an politics. The message that the president now proposed "would at once buckle on the harness and throw down the gauntlet. It would have the air of open defi ance to all of Europe, and I should not be surprised if the fi rst answer to it from Spain and France, and even Rus sia, should be to break off their diplomatic intercourse with us." Adams saw it as part of his job to dampen such enthusiasm by asking the president to calculate the reality of the power dynamics— to weigh his hopes against an objective assessment of the situation. Adams concluded by reminding the president that the United States was not ready for a war, that it would be morally and po liti cally advantageous to let trouble originate from Eu rope, and that Monroe's legacy would inevitably suffer if he were seen as aggressively leading the United States into a war for which the country was not prepared.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Edel, Charles N. *Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Charles N. Edel, *Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic* (Harvard University Press, 2014), 176–177.

Shortened citation:

Edel, *Nation Builder*, 176–177.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.70

The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826

Dexter Perkins

SELECTION	THE MONROE DOCTRINE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 72–73 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1927.

Excerpt

LIOMAGL PEGOUIL LUE SOLE LUEEEE, WARE AY AA Ae Re ee explicit terms, the opposition of the United States to the doctrine of intervention, and to interference by the European powers with the affairs of the New World.® Before Tuyll had presented this dispatch to Adams, however, Monroe and his advisers had already discussed the dangers in which the Spanish colonies stood. From the beginning of the cabinet discussions of November, 1823, the President and John C. Calhoun, the Secretary of War, were wholly convinced that the Holy Alliance would soon act to restore the colonies to Spain. The President, wrote Adams, "'is alarmed far beyond anything that I could have conceived possible," and "the news that Cadiz has surrendered to the French has so affected him that he appeared entirely to despair of the cause of South America." ® Calhoun, in Adams's phrase, was "'perfectly moonstruck"' at the danger.'

5 In addition to these official representations which aroused the disquietude of the President, worth noting, also, is a letter from G. W. Erving, then travelling in Europe, to Crawford, the Secretary of the Treasury. 'Without supposing it to be true that this government [i.e., the French] has made a treaty with the actual regency at Madrid by which she engages to bring the Spanish colonies in South America to submission by force, as has been said," wrote Erving, "this is evident, that all the influence of Russia as well as of France, will be employed in that object; the obvious policy of Russia in this respect will be reinforced by considerations growing out of the termination of the Spanish revolution (should it terminate according to her desire) — considerations belonging to the common cause of the Holy Alliance. But will any means of negotiation or force (or corruption) be able to bring about the reunion of the colonies with Spain —I think affirmatively as to most of them. Shall we find it necessary to do anything in favor of the independence we have already acknowledged? I apprehend so. Shall we act in this matter in unison with Great Britain? I fear so." Monroe Manuscripts, Library of Congress. This letter was written September 25, 1823, and was certainly made known to the President by Crawford. It is impossible to estimate its importance, though, in any case, it must have been a distinctly secondary consideration as compared with the overtures of Canning and the language of Tuyll. Monroe mentioned it to Adams on November 21; the Secretary declared that he ""put very little reliance on anything written by G. W. Erving. It might or might not eventuate as he said; but he knew nothing about the matter more than was known to the world, and had views of his own in whatever he wrote." Adams, Memoirs, vi, 196.

® Adams, Memoirs, vi, 185. In the quotation the pronoun "him" has been substituted for Adams's "the President" to avoid repetition of the latter phrase in a The Secretary of State himself refused to be thus terrified. It is, indeed, not the least striking evidence of his ability as a diplomat that he viewed the situation without panic, and with superb sense of proportion. Five years before, at the time of the deliberations at Aix-La-Chapelle, he had pointed out that the allies had no interest whatsoever in the reconquest of the colonies.' This was still his viewpoint in 1823. He believed that the Holy Alliance "would not ultimately invade South America." If they should actually do so, "they might make a temporary impression for three, four, or five years," said Adams in the cabinet meeting of November 15, but "I no more believe that the Holy Allies will restore the Spanish dominion upon the American continent than that the Chimborazo will sink beneath the ocean."' ° They would have no conceivable reason to restore the old exclusive system of the past.

Spain could never maintain herself in the New World alone, and "was it in human absurdity to imagine that they [the allied powers] should waste their blood and treasure to prohibit their own subjects upon pain of death to set foot upon those territories?"!° If they took action at all, the ultimate result would be to partition the colonies among themselves. But was it reasonable to suppose that they could agree upon any principle of partition? " And even if they

were able to do so, what inducement could they offer to Great Britain to acquiesce in any such scheme? “The only possible bait they could offer… was Cuba, which neither they nor Spain would consent to give her.” ” But though Adams was very far indeed from the panic fear that the Holy Alliance would reconquer South America, and was strongly inclined to the opinion that no intervention would even be attempted, he was by no means inclined to let the situation pass without an expression of the views of the United 8 Adams, Writings, vi, 317.
“There is no discernible motive of justice or of interest, which can induce the allied sovereigns to interpose for the restoration of the Spanish colonial dominion in South America. There is none even of policy; for if all the organized power of Europe is combined to maintain the authority of each sovereign over his own people, it is hardly supposable that the sober senses of the allied cabinets will permit them to extend the application of this principle of union tan the maintenance af calanial dnaminian hevond the Atlantic and the Fquator”’

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Perkins, Dexter. *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826*. Harvard Historical Studies 29. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1927.

Footnote citation:

Dexter Perkins, *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826* (Harvard University Press, 1927), 72–73.

Shortened citation:

Perkins, *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826*, 72–73.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.71

The Era of Good Feelings

George Dangerfield

SELECTION	THE DIPLOMACY OF COAL AND IRON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 280–281 · Supplied edition: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Excerpt

On April 14, 1823, George Canning made a great speech in Parliament which publicly reiterated the arguments he had already made to the French government in his dispatch of March 31. “I earnestly hope and trust,” he declared in his peroration, “that she (constitutional Spain) may come trium- © phantly out of the struggle.” *? His neutral policy was approved by the Commons, a mild victory for common sense, since England had no troops ready and her fleet could have been of no assistance to the Constitutionalists. But — his hopes for the triumph of revolutionary Spain were dashed by the event; and his views were certainly not well received by the king or the Ultra members of the Cabinet. The Duke of Wellington had been obliged to say things at Verona which he did not altogether believe; and—what was worse— after he had said them they had been disregarded by the French and the Allies. His mortification took the form of an intrigue against Canning. Those who examine the letters of Madame de Lieven to Prince Metternich can watch it grow. It consisted of a series of attempts to humiliate Canning into resigning, and of a confidential correspondence between Metternich, © Wellington, and George IV which was never shown to the Foreign Secretary. Canning was immovable. He knew that his policy was a popular one, he commanded a majority in the House of Commons, and above all he enjoyed the steady and unflinching support of the Earl of Liverpool. “My Lord Liverpool is neither more nor less than a common prostitute,” Wellington blurted out at a dinner party; but hard words break no bones.**

Canning had hoped that the prestige of England would keep the French out of Spain, and that the Holy Allies would listen’to his warnings and cease to meddle with the independence of Spanish America: his neutral policy was always directed towards the preservation of the Central and South American market. In the summer of 1823, it did not appear that he had been successful. At his own dinner table, surrounded by Holy Alliance diplomats, George IV rallied his Foreign Secretary. “There is nothing more contemptible and clumsy than half-measures and half-tones. I hate them. Don’t you, Mr. Canning?” ** Mr. Canning was silent. But, indeed, his diplomatic defeats were only on the surface. An instinct, too profound for formulation, urged him to shatter the Quadruple Alliance and to dissociate England from the Holy Allies. A British statesman, he said in 1826, “in internal as in external affairs

[will] hold a middle course between extremes, avoiding alike extravagancies of despotism, or the licentiousness of unbridled freedom.” *® Even 1823, he was groping his way towards that kind of world liberalism which is most agreeable to an expanding industrial economy—the liberalism, that is to say, not of free men but of free markets. “With painful steps and slow” Lord Liverpool and his “economic Cabinet” were moving in the same direction. Needless to say, these pioneers did not reach their destination: they were not too sure—they could only hope—that it existed. While Lord Liverpool and Mr. Huskisson hacked away at the jungle of tariff schedules and navigation laws, Mr. Canning succeeded in discrediting the Holy Alliance. All loom together in British history as the heralds of a new era. John Quincy Adams, like George Canning, did not believe that the Spanish- American republics were in any real danger of physical invasion, either from France, the Holy Allies, or both together. He was far more worried about the island of Cuba, “an object of transcendent importance to the political and commercial interests of our Union.” ** A British naval squadron was hovering close to its shores, ostensibly to protect British shipping against pirates; and it occurred to Mr. Adams, as the Spanish. crisis grew in intensity, that Great Britain might rush to the defense of revolutionary Spain and demand in return the modest gift of Cuba. He had different ideas about the future of that island. “It is scarcely possible to resist the conviction,” he wrote in his instructions to Hugh Nelson, the new Minister to Spain, “that the annexation of Cuba to our federal republic will be indispensable to the continuance and integrity of the Union itself. It is obvious however that for this event we are not yet prepared.... But there are laws of political

as well as physical gravitation; and if an apple severed by the tempest from its native tree cannot choose but fall to the ground, Cuba, forcibly disjoined from its own unnatural connection with Spain, and incapable of self-support, can gravitate only towards the North American Union, which by the same law of nature cannot cast her off from its bosom."

In the meantime, "you will not conceal from the Spanish government the repugnance of the United States to the transfer of the island of Cuba by Spain to any other power." Here was the No-Transfer Principle in all its glory. It is not altogether surprising that similar ideas, in reverse, should have presented themselves to the fertile mind of' Mr. Canning. In October 1822 he was convinced that the United States had designs upon Cuba; and he instructed Stratford Canning to use all his endeavors to ascertain "how far such suspicions are justified." ** Stratford Canning replied in January 1823 that there was not the slightest foundation for them. In March Lord Liverpool told Mr. Rush, the American

Minister, that Great Britain would not agree to any change in Cuba's sovereignty, nor would she dream of seizing the island for herself.*® In the same month, President Monroe informed his Cabinet that he would be willing to enter into a mutual agreement with Great Britain not to take Cuba. This was thought unnecessary; but it was obvious that the air was clearing.®°

Aside from the Cuban problem, there was every reason for Monroe and Adams to be satisfied with the actions of Great Britain. At Verona, she had broken with the Holy Alliance. She had made it clear that she would countenance no outside intervention between Spain and her American colonies. Mr.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dangerfield, George. *The Era of Good Feelings*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Footnote citation:

George Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings* (Harcourt, Brace, 1952), 280–281.

Shortened citation:

Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings*, 280–281.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.72

The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America

Jay Sexton

SELECTION	The Monroe Doctrine
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 52–53 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 2011.

Excerpt

(whom Adams thought "moonstruck" by the prospect of a Holy Alliance intervention), the Secretary of State doubted that European intervention was imminent. Even if it was, he was certain it would fail: "I no more believe that the Holy Allies will restore the Spanish dominion upon the American continent than that the Chimborazo will sink beneath the ocean," he asserted.' Given the unlikelihood of a successful European intervention in Spanish America, Adams maintained that there was no need to ally with the British. The Secretary of State emphasized the potential costs of accepting Canning's offer. The wily British statesman declined to extend recognition to the new states of Spanish America (indeed, it was this issue that proved the stumbling block in Canning's initial discussions with Rush). Adams feared that Canning's refusal to commit to Spanish American independence portended a duplicitous reversal in British policy that would leave the United States standing alone against the Holy Alliance. Canning drove a hard bargain with the Americans in another way: his proposal. included a joint pledge prohibiting both states from the future annexation of territories in Spain's crumbling empire.

Adams was loath to preclude any future additions to the union, particularly those of strategic importance such as Cuba and Texas. A pledge of nonannexation would be no loss to Canning, he argued, as Spanish Americans would never volunteer to join the British Empire. But Adams thought it likely that the people of Texas or Cuba "may exercise their primitive rights, and solicit a union with us." Finally, Adams argued against Canning's offer on the grounds that a joint declaration would give Britain the lion's share of the credit for protecting Spanish America from the Holy Allies, thus giving the British a leg up in the race for these markets. "It would be more candid, as well as more dignified," Adams concluded, "to avow our principles explicitly... than to come in as a cock-boat in the wake of the British man-of-war."® Adams seized the opportunity to promote an independent Canning's offer and encouraged Monroe to use the forum of the annual message to Congress (conveniently scheduled for December 2) to announce American opposition to further European colonization and intervention in the Western Hemisphere.

'This move would address the related issues of threatened European intervention in Spanish America, Russian claims in the Pacific Northwest, and Canning's offer. It also would proclaim to the world that the American principles of anticolonialism and nonintervention applied to the Western Hemisphere. "The whole of the papers now drawn up," Adams recorded in his diary, "were but various parts of one system under consideration."' The Secretary of State did not dictate policy to the President, but he nonetheless played a central role in the creation of what later became the "Monroe Doctrine." Of the three paragraphs of the Doctrine, Adams solely authored one (the noncolonization paragraph) and deeply influenced the other two (the nonintervention paragraphs).'° The course of action pursued by the Monroe administration advanced American interests and principles at minimal cost. The 1823 message shrewdly exploited British power, which Adams hedged would be deployed against the Holy Allies in the case of an intervention, without signing up to the restrictive terms of Canning's offer.

Years after the fact, Adams contended that the diplomacy of 1823 went further than simply hitching a free ride on the Royal Navy: the noncolonization clause, he asserted, was nothing less than "a warning to Great Britain herself."'! This was akin to the hitchhiker dictating directions to the driver. Adams's arguments during the cabinet debates of November 1823 would become an American legend (it helped that his diary is the only source for the cabinet's deliberations). Statesmen and historians in the late nineteenth century would view it as the foundation of American unilateralism and the clarion call of American independence in international affairs. "The Monroe doctrine bore

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sexton, Jay. *The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2011.

Footnote citation:

Jay Sexton, *The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America* (Hill and Wang, 2011), 52–53.

Shortened citation:

Sexton, *The Monroe Doctrine*, 52–53.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.73

The Presidency of James Monroe

Noble E. Cunningham Jr.

SELECTION	The Monroe Doctrine
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 152–153 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Excerpt

As Monroe proceeded with the recognition of Latin American inde pendence, Adams told the British minister to the United States that "the whole system of modem colonization was an abuse of government, and it was time that it should come to an end."12 In November 1823 Monroe asked the secretary of state for a memorandum on foreign affairs for his annual message to Congress, and Adams suggested that in his report of negotiations with Russia regarding the northwestern coast, Monroe as sert: "as a principle in which the rights and interests of the people of the United States are equally involved, that the American Continents, by the free and independent condition which they have assumed and maintain, are henceforth not to be considered as subjects for future Col onization by any European Power."13

At the same time Monroe was preparing his annual address, the administration was deep in deliberation on another major question of American foreign policy relating to the American continents. On Octo ber 9, 1823, Secretary of State Adams received from London a large packet of dispatches from Richard Rush, the United States minister to Great Britain. These papers revealed that George Canning, the British foreign secretary, had confidentially proposed to Rush a joint declara tion regarding the Spanish colonies in America. In a private note of August 20,1823, Canning summarized their recent conversation and in formed Rush that his government considered the recovery of the colo nies by Spain to be hopeless and British recognition of their indepen dence to be only a matter of time and circumstances. Britain did not aim at the possession of any portion of the provinces. Canning declared, and would not view with indifference their transfer to any power. "If these opinions and feelings are, as I firmly believe them to be, common to your government with ours, why should we hesitate mutually to con fide them to each other; and to declare them in the face of the world?"15

While Rush was conferring with the British foreign secretary and studying his confidential memorandum, a French army was in Spain suppressing opposition to the Spanish monarchy. By the end of August 1823, Ferdinand VII was restored to power. After quelling revolution in Spain, would French forces join other continental powers to subdue rebels in Spanish colonies? Such intervention in Spanish America would not be acceptable to Great Britain, and Britain had the naval power to thwart it. Indeed, before Rush's dispatches could reach the United States, Canning took steps to ensure that France would not be a party to European intervention by pressuring the French ambassador in London, the Prince de Polignac, to pledge in a memorandum that his government had no intention of intervening in Spanish America.

Monroe and Adams, of course, could not know that Canning had abandoned the idea of a joint declaration with the United States even before his proposal reached American shores. As they contemplated the American response and worked on the draft of the president's message to Congress, Monroe sent Rush's communiqués to Jefferson and Madi son asking their advice.

To Madison, Monroe described Canning's confidential overture as a plan of "cooperation between our two governments, in opposing, by re ciprocal declaration, in the first instance, a project which he thinks ex ists, of the holy alliance, to invade the South American States, as soon as the business with Spain is settled." Monroe indicated that he was "persuaded that we had better meet the proposition fully, and deci sively," because if the Holy Alliance of Russia, Prussia, Austria, and France succeeded in restoring the Spanish colonies, "they would, in the next instance, invade us." In conclusion, "Ought we not then to en courage Great Britain in the course she seems disposed to pursue, and avail ourselves, of any service she can render, in a cause which though important to her, as to balance of

power, commerce, etc., is vital to us, as to government."17 To Jefferson, Monroe confided: "My own impres sion is that we ought to meet the proposal of the British government and to make it known, that we would view an interference on the part of the European powers, and especially an attack on the Colonies, by them, as an attack on ourselves, presuming that, if they succeeded with them, they would extend it to us." But recognizing the complexity of the issue and the risk involved, the president was eager to hear from his trusted predecessors.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cunningham, Noble E., Jr. *The Presidency of James Monroe*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Noble E. Cunningham Jr., *The Presidency of James Monroe* (University Press of Kansas, 1996), 152–153.

Shortened citation:

Cunningham, *The Presidency of James Monroe*, 152–153.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.74

John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy

Samuel Flagg Bemis

SELECTION	John Quincy Adams
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 368–369 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1949.

Excerpt

Adams came back to the Non-Colonization Principle again in November 1822 in another conversation with the British Minister, this time on restriction of trade with the British West Indies. “The whole system of modern colonization,” he declared to Stratford Canning, “is an abuse of government and it is time that it should come to an end.”

The Secretary embodied the principle in a draft of instructions (June 1823) for the guidance of Middleton in St. Petersburg: the United States would contest the right of Russia to any territorial establishments on the Continent of North America. This categorical statement worried the President. After discussing the matter in Cabinet, Monroe decided to recognize the Russian claims north of 55° N.L.*° But in an interview with von Tuyll on July 17, 1823 Adams managed to say what the President would not let him put into the instructions to Middleton: “I told him specially that we should contest the right of Russia to any territorial establishment on this continent, and that we should assume distinctly the principle that the American continents are no longer subjects for any new European colonial establishments.”?*

Adams had summoned forth the Non-Colonization Principle out of his own intuition. He expressed it gratuitously to both the British and the Russian Ministers. Once more before Monroe’s famous message of December 2, 1823 he reiterated the idea for the benefit of the British Government. That was when he was drawing up instructions for the guidance of Richard Rush in parallel negotiations by the United States and Great Britain protesting Russian pretensions on the North West Coast. The independence of the South American states and of Mexico, he then stated, had extinguished the exclusive rights of Spain to any part of the Coast, such-as she might have claimed at the time of the Nootka Sound Convention of 1790. “A necessary consequence of this state of things jects of colonization.” 7 Thus all his life John Quincy Adams had been a spokesman of Abstention. And all students of the question have agreed that he was sole author of Non-Colonization. But what of the third dictum — Hands Off the New World, America for the Americans? To understand the provenance of this dogma and Adams’s relation to it, we must return again to Europe, to the predicaments of British and of American diplomacy in the face of the Holy Alliance.

British policy after the overthrow of Napoleon embraced supremacy on the seas behind a balance of power concerted in the Quadruple Alliance (Austria, Great Britain, Prussia, Russia) to maintain the peace of Europe against another irruption of revolutionary France. Britain’s continental allies under the leadership of Alexander I would fain have used the Quadruple Alliance for another purpose: to repress revolution wherever it might raise its head against a legitimist divine-right ruler. To that end the Czar had proclaimed in 1815, under lofty Christian principles, the Holy Alliance. It was signed originally by himself, the King of Prussia, the Emperor of Austria, and all the legitimist monarchs of Europe except the Sultan of Turkey, the Pope, and the Prince Regent of Great Britain. The British Regent could not condemn revolution too directly because his dynasty owed its throne to the Revolution of 1688. Therefore the Regent had to content himself with a personal letter to the Czar applauding the principles of the Holy Alliance without binding his own Government, which was responsible only to Parliament.
For the first few years following the peace settlement of 1815 — that is, until after the Conference of Aix-la~-Chapelle — Lord Castlereagh had been able to hold the Quadruple Alliance to its strict purpose as interpreted by his Government; but in 1820 the continental allies got out of British control. At the Conference of Troppau-Laibach (1820-1) the Holy Allies, despite the dissent of Great Britain, gave a mandate to Austria to put down republican

revolution in Naples and in Piedmont lest it spread to their own realms. At Verona in 1822 they again overrode British opposition and approved French military intervention in Spain to tear up the new constitution there and restore the absolute authority of Ferdinand VII. They even announced that if Great Britain, ally of Spain since the first Peninsular War, should interfere to assist the Spanish constitutionalists, they would come to the aid of France.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bemis, Samuel Flagg. *John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1949.

Footnote citation:

Samuel Flagg Bemis, *John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1949), 368–369.

Shortened citation:

Bemis, *John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy*, 368–369.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.75

John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire

William Earl Weeks

SELECTION	Adams and American Global Empire
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 180–181 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kentucky, 1992.

Excerpt

The Monroe Doctrine can be viewed as the culmination of six years (and in a larger sense, nearly fifty years) of astute American diplomacy. Adams's far-sighted, pragmatic approach to Anglo-American relations, South American affairs, continental and commercial expansionism, and the place of the United States in the world made possible the bold articulation in December 1823 of what was in effect a statement of hemispheric supremacy. It must also be said that the Transcontinental Treaty is of greater historical significance than the far more thoroughly investigated circumstances immediately surrounding Monroe's celebrated 1823 message. The success of Monroe's foreign policy (and hence the Monroe Doctrine] hinged on the treaty. Insofar as the treaty finalized the boundaries of the Louisiana Purchase, it should be bracketed with that more heralded piece of American diplomacy as the diplomatic cornerstones of the Monroe Doctrine. Questions of authorship aside, it is undeniable that without Adams's adroit statesmanship during the preceding years, Monroe would have been in no position to pronounce his famous doctrine.

This is not to diminish the scope of Monroe's foreign policy achievements. As the nation's chief executive, Monroe deserves credit for making the Jeffersonian foreign policy a success in spite of the near-catastrophes of the Embargo and the War of 1812. In this respect, Monroe's foreign policy was more successful than that of either Jefferson or Madison. It might rightfully be claimed that the shrewdness of Adams made possible much of Monroe's success; nonetheless, Monroe deserves credit for being wise enough to know sound advice when he heard it—one of the most valuable traits for a president to have.

Recently, scholars of early American diplomacy have noted a continuity of ideas and aims in the nation's foreign policy from 1776 to the present.!" The record of Adams and Monroe's foreign policy (and more generally the Jeffersonian foreign policy as a whole) lends support to this observation. During Monroe's presidency a number of critical precedents regarding the conduct and control of American foreign policy were established or reinforced. Most important, the executive branch of the government emerged from the Monroe presidency with substantially greater power than was envisioned by the framers of the Constitution. The expansion of presidential power represented by Jefferson's Louisiana Purchase was augmented considerably during Monroe's two terms. In several key respects it can be said that Monroe's administration marked the birth of the "Imperial Presidency."

Specifically, Congress's unsuccessful challenge to the Amelia Island occupation, failed push for South American recognition, and abortive attempt to censure Jackson's invasion of Florida demonstrated that the legislative branch would allow the executive wide latitude to conduct foreign policy. Congressional votes on these issues indicated unambiguously a reluctance to interfere with the presidential conduct of foreign affairs even if that conduct bordered on the unconstitutional. Adams, an outspoken champion of a strong executive branch, knew that an imperial foreign policy demanded a president with far more power than was prescribed by the Founding Fathers. His success in expanding the power of the executive branch over foreign affairs is one his most enduring legacies.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Weeks, William Earl. *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire*. Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1992.

Footnote citation:

William Earl Weeks, *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire* (University Press of Kentucky, 1992), 180–181.

Shortened citation:

Weeks, *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire*, 180–181.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.76

The Making of the Monroe Doctrine

Ernest R. May

SELECTION	Implications
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 259–260 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1975.

Excerpt

Historians employ such reasoning even though they refer to history as a seamless web and recognize that it is illogical to suppose that if one set of conditions had been different, all other conditions would have remained the same. When confronted with formal regression analyses executed by colleagues who have learned mathematics, they are apt to express indignation for precisely this reason. Nevertheless, they resort covertly to something like regression analysis because they see no better way of generalizing about causal forces.

I have tried in this book to use a form of analysis which is somewhat different. Lacking skill in formal logic, I am not prepared to specify all the assumptions which it involves, and I confess that it derives from the nonformal epistemology of Benedetto Croce and R. G. Collingwood, which emphasizes the historian's explaining the past by achieving empathy with the people who experienced it.

I have tried to ask here what predictions a well-informed observer would have made in 1823 on the basis of three different assumptions about what was likely to control decisions facing the United States government. I argue that the observer would not have been able to foretell the course of debate by reasoning from knowledge about the backgrounds and previous opinions of the men involved or from knowledge of the external world which they were presumably trying to influence. He would have been able to make an accurate forecast if he had assumed that the positions of the policymakers would match their domestic political interests. As indicated earlier, I would add the caution that this particular finding apphed to Americans of 1823 and would not have applied equally to Europeans of that time and does not necessarily apply to Americans of any later time.

In any case, the point here is that the approach enables one to identify a set of critical determinants without having to resort to guesswork about what might have been. To conclude that domestic political factors were dominant does not require speculation on what posture Adams or Calhoun might have adopted if not candidates for the presidency or to replay the scenario with different characters in key roles. Instead, one takes the facts as they were, uses his imagination to situate himself at some moment before the fact, asks what factors might determine a then uncertain outcome, decides which weightings of these factors would have produced the most accurate forecasts of the actual outcome, and explains that outcome accordingly. While conceding that this approach still leaves room for differences in judgment due to differences in the selection and evaluation of evidence, I would argue that it has advantages over regression analysis. I would even suggest that a formalized version of it might prove more powerful if applied by economists and economic historians. I hope some of them will test this proposition.

In any case, I think that this approach yields better understanding of how the Monroe Doctrine took form, for it enables one to see for the first time how the character and structure of domestic politics shaped fundamental foreign policy choices. It is probably superfluous to remark in conclusion that the choices so shaped were wise ones. For more than a century, Americans were to find the consequences tolerable. Until the doctrine was given new connotations in the 1890s and afterward, most other people in the world were also to find the consequences unobjectionable. Very few foreign policy decisions have passed such tests. And the credit belongs not to Monroe or Adams or any other individual but to the pluralistic, relatively representative, and highly politicized system within which they worked. The Monroe Doctrine may be said to have epitomized the foreign policy of democracy.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

May, Ernest R. *The Making of the Monroe Doctrine*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Ernest R. May, *The Making of the Monroe Doctrine* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1975), 259–260.

Shortened citation:

May, *The Making of the Monroe Doctrine*, 259–260.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.77

Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World

Charles A. Kupchan

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Oxford University Press, 2020.

Excerpt

As he looked to expand the nation's naval strength, Cleveland was more focused on flexing the nation's muscles in Latin America than in the Pacific. Indeed, his readiness to embrace an expansive interpretation of the Monroe Doctrine provoked a diplomatic crisis with Britain in 1895–1896. The issue in play was a dispute between Britain and Venezuela over the border of British Guiana. In late 1895, Cleveland received overwhelming support from both houses of Congress to insert the United States into the dispute and to fund a commission that would resolve the issue through neutral arbitration. Senator Lodge warned that Britain's handling of its confrontation with Venezuela without regard to U.S. interests was an affront to Americans, and that "the United States must either maintain the Monroe doctrine and treat its infringement as an act of hostility or abandon it." Representative Charles Grosvenor (R-Ohio) similarly asserted that Cleveland should either take a strong stand or "cease to discuss the subject and abandon the Monroe doctrine permanently.... To temporize is cowardice, to equivocate dishonor."

Amid the charged atmosphere, Richard Olney, Cleveland's new secretary of state (Gresham died in May 1895), promptly dispatched a letter to the British urging them to agree to address the dispute through arbitration. Olney's interpretation of the Monroe Doctrine was fulsome: "Today the United States is practically sovereign on this continent, and its fiat is law upon the subjects to which it confines its interposition.... Its infinite resources combined with its isolated position render it master of the situation and practically invulnerable as against any or all other powers."

The British government initially rejected the U.S. request to resolve the dispute through arbitration as well as the claim that the Monroe Doctrine provided the United States a say in the matter. Indeed, the British effectively dismissed the Monroe Doctrine in their reply, noting that no country, regardless of its power, is "competent to insert into the code of international law a novel principle which was never recognized before, and which has not since been accepted by the government of any other country." Blustery talk of war ensued in Washington, and the administration ordered the U.S. Navy to maintain readiness. In February 1896, the Senate debated the status of the Monroe Doctrine, reinforcing the chamber's commitment to stand firm on the Venezuela border dispute. Senator Newton Blanchard (D-Louisiana) proclaimed that any British effort to seize territory from Venezuela "would be held by us to be tantamount to a declaration of war against both the United States and Venezuela, and would be resisted accordingly. That is the inevitable logic of the position we have assumed.
We do not shrink from it, because it is right: it is the bold assertion of a great national policy The heated atmosphere in Washington helped convince the British prime minister, Lord Salisbury, to back down and agree to submit the border dispute to neutral arbitration. Weighing heavily on his mind were the Royal Navy's anxieties about going to war with the United States while also facing rising threats to British interests in Europe, Asia, and South Africa. The British were particularly concerned about the increasingly aggressive tone of congressional and public debate. Indeed, the British government seemed at least as concerned about rampant war-fever among the American public as it was about the strategic intentions of the Cleveland administration. The General Staff openly expressed its worries that public passions could press Washington to take hostile action, and Lord Salisbury, according to historian Stuart Anderson, "distrusted the emotionalism that often found its way into American foreign policy." The British also went out of their way to acknowledge U.S. sway in the Western Hemisphere, perhaps to the end of moderating public attitudes in the United States.

Arthur Balfour, leader of the House of Commons and First Lord of the Treasury, told Parliament that in the dispute with Venezuela, "there has never been, and there is not now, the slightest intention on the part of this country to violate what is the substance and the essence of the Monroe Doctrine... a principle of policy which both they [the United States] and we cherish."

Cleveland's decision to confront Britain over the border dispute between Venezuela and British Guiana, while out of character given his isolationist leanings, was in keeping with the more assertive stance toward the hemisphere that took shape during the 1890s. Indeed, U.S. forces were becoming increasingly active in the region. Interventions continued to be limited in scope and duration, focused narrowly on protecting U.S commercial interests and citizens. Nonetheless, between 1890 and the outbreak of the Spanish-American War in 1898, the United States intervened in Latin America eight times—in Argentina (1890), Haiti (1891), Chile (1891), Brazil (1894), Nicaragua (1894, 1896, 1898), and Colombia (1895). By means of comparison, during the previous decade, U.S. forces intervened in the region only twice—in Panama (1885) and Haiti (1888).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kupchan, Charles A. *Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Charles A. Kupchan, *Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2020), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Kupchan, *Isolationism*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.78

Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic

Charles N. Edel

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 2014.

Excerpt

Looking across his entire career, Adams's grand strategy comes into focus. Adams acted on the conviction that an effective grand strategy required the ability not only to set priorities among competing goals, but also to act on those priorities in the proper sequence. This "you cannot do everything at once" principle dominated his thinking. He possessed a clear sense of the stages of development through which a rising power must proceed and recognized that these stages had to be completed in a certain order. Some things were more important than others— certain events demanded immediate responses, while others could be dealt with later. As secretary of state, Adams refl ected on this, writing, "I did not recollect any change of policy; but observed there had been a great change of circumstances."

Adams crafted a grand strategy aimed at reducing security risks to the republic and vindicating republicanism as the form of government best suited to promote human progress and liberty. Each was an end unto itself, but these two great goals supported each other. Without security, the nascent republican principles and institutions would not survive in a world dominated by militarized empires. Without a moral component, America offered the world nothing better than the monarchies of the Old World. Over time, he pursued strategies designed to promote those two ends.

Reducing security threats to the nation required a strategy with three separate, though related, components. To insulate America from Eu rope's destructive quarrels, Adams advanced a strategy of neutrality. To ensure its lasting peace with foreign powers, he advocated a strategy of enhanced defense capabilities. And to reduce the menace of Eu rope in North America, he promoted a strategy of continental expansion designed to establish the United States as the predominant power in the Western Hemi sphere.

Additionally, Adams believed that while a republic was the form of government most conducive to human fl ourishing, ensuring such development required a twofold strategy. To further its institutions, he pushed a model of economic growth designed to improve the lives of the nation's citizens. To bolster America's appeal as a po liti cal model, it needed to be morally attractive. Adams offered a strategy capable of attacking slavery, and thereby reconciling the contradiction of slavery in a nation based on freedom. Before Adams, po liti cal leaders in the United States had a clear enough understanding of goals, but no conception of how to achieve those objectives. Adams was neither the fi rst nor the only national politician to promote strategies for America's rise, but he was the only one who linked, prioritized, and sequenced them into a comprehensive grand strategy that was intended to harness the country's geographic, military, economic, and moral resources. In this, Adams looms large as a nation builder whose par tic u lar combination of ideas and policies make him an important bridge between the founding generation of American statesmen and the Civil War– era Lincoln and Seward.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Edel, Charles N. *Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Charles N. Edel, *Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic* (Harvard University Press, 2014), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Edel, *Nation Builder*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.79

The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America

Jay Sexton

SELECTION	The Monroe Doctrine
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 2011.

Excerpt

deterred the European powers from intervention in Latin America. Though it was part of the administration's diplomatic strategy, Monroe addressed the message not to foreign governments, but to "Fellow-Citizens of the Senate and House of Representatives." The message articulated a national policy aimed at strengthening the union of states in North America; yet the members of the cabinet who drafted it—principally John Quincy Adams of Massachusetts, South Carolinian John C. Calhoun, and Virginians William Wirt and Monroe—had the interests of their own states, sections, and political positions in mind. Most important, the Monroe cabinet stated what European powers could not do, but stopped short of announcing any specific policy for the United States. The 1823 message placed no constraints or limitations on American statesmen.

The open-ended nature of the seemingly direct 1823 message foreshadowed the elasticity and political utility of what became known in the mid-nineteenth century as the Monroe Doctrine. Generations of Americans would proclaim that Monroe's message embodied fundamental principles of American statecraft. But they would disagree with one another over its meaning, purpose, and application. There would be as many Monroe Doctrines as foreign policy perspectives. When even the flexible language of the 1823 message proved restrictive, Americans would attach "corollaries" to it to extend legitimacy to new policies. The creation of the Monroe Doctrine was not a single event in 1823, but rather a contested process that lasted throughout the nineteenth century. The construction of the Monroe Doctrine was like a never-ending building project: upon the foundations of the 1823 message, Americans built larger, more elaborate structures, only to have political opponents or subsequent generations renovate or even demolish and rebuild what lay before them.

The Monroe Doctrine evolved in relation to the shifting dynamics and internal politics of the union. It also was the product of the larger geopolitical context of great power expansion, rivalry, and contraction from which the American nation and empire emerged. There was nothing inevitable or preordained about the rise of the United States, even if the Monroe Doctrine boldly called for a new world order premised upon American principles. 'Though the North American republic was blessed with many advantages, it was vulnerable from within and without. Nor did nineteenth-century Americans agree on the form and purposes that their nation and empire should assume. This book uses the Monroe Doctrine to examine how the state that emerged as the preeminent global power of the twentieth century was the product of the protracted, contentious, and interconnected processes of anticolonial liberation, internal national consolidation, and imperial expansion.

"Impertal Anticolonialism" Unique in the nineteenth-century world, the United States transformed itself from a group of colonies to a global empire. The transition from colony to empire was not linear. American statesmen did not first focus on consolidating their independence from Britain before then setting about building their empire. They did not decide in 1823 that their colonial past had been put to rest and their imperial future now lay before them. Nor were anticolonialism and imperialism irreconcilable opposites in the context of nineteenth-century America. The key to understanding the nineteenth-century Monroe Doctrine is the simultaneity and interdependence of anticolonialism and imperialism. 'The historian William Appleman Williams perhaps summed it up best when he labeled American statecraft "imperial anticolonialism."!

The fusion of imperialism and anticolonialism shaped both the domestic and foreign policies of the United States in the nineteenth century. In part because of their experience under

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sexton, Jay. *The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2011.

Footnote citation:

Jay Sexton, *The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America* (Hill and Wang, 2011), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Sexton, *The Monroe Doctrine*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.80

John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire

William Earl Weeks

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kentucky, 1992.

Excerpt

Pacific ports has been extended backward in time. In this regard the Transcontinental Treaty can be understood as a prelude to “Polk’s aggressive diplomacy.” In addition, William Appleman Williams's landmark article “The Age of Mercantilism” has suggested a framework within which to explain the foreign policy of the Monroe administration.

Second, during the last quarter-century the influence of a classical republican tradition on the revolutionary generation has been documented by Bernard Bailyn, Gordon Wood, J.G.A. Pocock, Joyce Appleby, and others. Their work emphasizes that generation’s perception that the survival of the American republican experiment depended on the virtue of its citizens. A republican people had to resist the temptations of personal ambition, self-interest, and faction if the republic was to withstand the disintegrative effects of time. The Adams family can be considered “classical republicans”: for three generations, public service was the axis around which the family oriented its existence. John Quincy Adams was groomed from early childhood to occupy what was assumed to be his destined role of leadership. His moral, religious, and educational training were all intended to create the ideal republican leader, one whose personal integrity matches the purity of his public vision. Adams acted out the myth of the classical republican, so much so that late in life he identified with the Roman statesman Cicero. Adams steadfastly asserted an ethic holding that process is as important as result, that public service must not be tainted by private ambition. Yet he lived in an era in which ambition and self-interest were becoming the motive forces in American society. This basic tension in his life forced him to choose between adhering to his ideals and realizing his appointed destiny. In the end, Adams opted for diplomatic and electoral success at the cost of his sense of virtue. By so doing, he demonstrated the irrelevance of classical republican notions of public service in the nineteenth century. In this sense, Adams’s life bore witness to the truths contained in the predictions of republican disintegration and collapse.

Third, although the sheer size of the Adams Family Papers (605 reels of microfilm, more than 150 for John Quincy Adams alone) prohibits a comprehensive reexamination of his life, I have closely examined the record of the period from late 1817 to early 1819, during which Adams negotiated the treaty with Spain. I attempt to chronicle this moment, so crucial to both the life of Adams and the history of the nation. Then, using the work of his numerous biographers, I seek to contextualize my understanding of this critical time in Adams's life within the broader perspective of both his career and the nation’s history. Brooks and Henry Adams's perception of their grandfather is the starting point for this analysis; of near-equal importance is the two-volume biography of Adams by Samuel Flagg Bemis.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Weeks, William Earl. *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire*. Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1992.

Footnote citation:

William Earl Weeks, *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire* (University Press of Kentucky, 1992), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Weeks, *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.81

The Age of Jackson

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr.

SELECTION	BEGINNINGS OF THE BANK WAR
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 77–78 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1945.

Excerpt

The ordinary follower of Jackson in the West also regarded the Bank with strong latent antagonism, but for very different reasons.

Its policy in 1819 of recalling specie and checking the note issue of state banks had gained it few friends in any class, and, in Kentucky especially, the Relief War kept resentments alive. But this anti-Bank feeling owed little to reasoned distrust of paper money or to a Jeffersonian desire for specie. As a debtor section the West naturally preferred cheap money; and Kentucky, for example, which most vociferously opposed the United States Bank, also resorted most ardently to wildcat banking of its own. The crux of the Kentucky fight against the Bank was not the paper system, but outside control: the Bank's sin lay not in circulating paper money itself, but in restraining its circulation by Kentucky banks. Almost nowhere, apart from doctrinaires like Jackson and Benton, did Westerners object to state banks under local control.

Indeed, during the eighteen-twenties, even the Philadelphia Bank to a considerable degree overcame the Western prejudices against it.® In Tennessee, for example, until 1829 "both [Governor William] Carroll and the legislature favored federal as well as state banks, nor does anything in the history of the state indicate that there was any general feeling against such institutions before Jackson became President."^ Caleb Atwater, a lusty Jackson man from Ohio and something of a professional Westerner, expressed a widespread feeling when he wrote in 1831, "Refuse to re-charter the bank, and Pittsburgh, Cincinnati,

Louisville, St. Louis, Nashville, and New Orleans, will be crushed at one blow." Even Frank Blair's first large-scale blast against the Bank in the Argus of Western America after Jackson's election did not come until December 23, 1829, many months after Eastern groups had begun to agitate the question. This editorial — actually prefaced by an anti-Bank quote from a Van Buren paper in New York — appealed to the Kentucky fear of Eastern control; and all through 1830 the Argus continued to focus on the power and privileges of the Bank and the consequent peril to the Commonwealth Bank of Kentucky, never on the general implications of the paper system.^** Some writers have talked of frontier life as if it bred traits of "individualism" and equality which made Westerners mystically opposed to banks. Actually, like all other groups in the population. Westerners favored banks when they thought they could profit by them and fought them when they thought others were profiting at their expense. The Western enthusiasm for an assault on the Bank came, not from an intuitive democratic Weltschmerz born in the American forest, nor from a Jeffersonian dislike of banks, but from a farmer-debtor desire to throw off restraints on the local issue of paper money.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Footnote citation:

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Little, Brown, 1945), 77–78.

Shortened citation:

Schlesinger, *The Age of Jackson*, 77–78.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.82

The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race

Donald J. Ratcliffe

SELECTION	The Corrupt Bargain
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 39–40 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Excerpt

Moreover, the argument that congressmen were obliged to vote for the man who won most votes in the Electoral College began to seem silly: otherwise, why did the Constitution insist on an absolute majority and refer a hung election to the House? It was not as though a lead in the Electoral College necessarily reflected majority popular opinion. The three-fifths clause biased the Electoral College toward Southern candidates; without it, Adams would have led Jackson by eighty-three votes to seventy-seven. True, on the face of things, Jackson had a plurality of the popular vote in those states that allowed their voters to choose the electors. However, in North Carolina Jackson owed victory to the open support of many Adams men; had they held aloof and Crawford won the state, Adams and Jackson would have tied in the Electoral College with eighty-four votes each. Moreover, in Maryland and Illinois the accidents of districting had given Jackson the lion's share of the electoral votes even though Adams had won a popular majority. "These facts," according to Congressman Sloane, "were known to congress at the time of making the choice," and he was convinced that Jackson "was not the choice of a majority of the American people."

For Jackson may have won a popular plurality in those states where the electorate choose its Electoral College, but what of the six states where the state legislature had chosen the electors and popular presidential preferences had not been directly measured? In Georgia, the preceding state election provided a clear and measurable indication of Crawford's advantage; Vermont and South Carolina were emphatically one-sided, and the size of the popular vote there could be calculated from contemporaneous elections. In Delaware and Louisiana the popular preference could only be guessed, though these lightly populated states could not change any nationwide calculation. Jackson certainly had at least plurality support across all four Southern states taken together, while Vermont belonged to Adams. The sixth state was New York where, in the state elections in November, 193,000 votes had been cast—enough to swamp the entire national popular vote of the leading presidential candidates. Had the proposed electoral bill passed back in March, New York's presidential election would have been held at the same time as the state election, and the indications were that Adams would have won 40 percent of the 193,000, Crawford 34 percent, Henry Clay 26 percent, and Jackson none. If that is correct, then across the nation, Adams in effect had 34,000 more popular votes than Jackson. Such precise calculations may not have been made in early 1825, but politicians knew that in the most populous part of the country, Adams had tapped a broad current of popular feeling as powerful as that which buoyed Jackson.

However, both popular currents were less than nationwide. As one U.S. senator observed, "I cannot learn that the delegations from the States south of the Chesapeake will support Mr. Adams, nor those from east of the Hudson, the General. In this aspect of affairs the friends of Mr. Crawford do not abandon the field." On the face of things, however, Crawford's chances were slim. His health was still an issue: he had begun attending Cabinet meetings again in November, but those who saw him thought him still handicapped. According to one supporter in December, "His articulation will even now operate against him, for... he is not the commanding man that he once was in conversation.... His tongue is so much affected that he lisps and with some difficulty expresses himself." Moreover, he had been fortunate to be returned third in the Electoral College, narrowly ahead of Clay. Whereas both Jackson and Adams soon thought they had six or seven states already lined up, Crawford could boast only three or four.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ratcliffe, Donald J. *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Donald J. Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race* (University Press of Kansas, 2015), 39–40.

Shortened citation:

Ratcliffe, *The One-Party Presidential Contest*, 39–40.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.83

The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era

Richard P. McCormick

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Excerpt

In the years after 1836 Whigs and Democrats continued to vie for control of the state until the American party supplanted the Whigs in 1855. The party balance remained close. After

1838, when the governorship became elective by popular vote every three years, the Democrats won the office consistently except in 1844. In presidential contests, however, the Whigs did not meet defeat until 1852. Voter participation remained high, reaching peaks of 85 per cent in the presidential election of 1840 and 81 per cent in the gubernatorial election of 1844. Voting in presidential elections tended to be slightly higher than in state elections. The long-established convention sys tem, based on the election districts and the counties, con tinued to function effectively and the state convention acquired additional functions and importance when the state became a unit for the election of a governor and presidential electors.

Far too little is known about Maryland politics; conse quently any generalizations about party formation in that state have to be limited to the meager evidence available. It is quite clear, however, that the state had a long tradition of twoparty politics before 1824 and that new party alignments, re lated to the contest between Jackson and Adams for the presi dency, had been formed by 1827. The easy transition from the old party system to the new seems to have been facilitated by the readiness with which former Federalists and former Re publicans laid aside ancient animosities and amalgamated in the new parties. Too, there was no Antimasonic enthusiasm to create a diversion. One of the most conspicuous and in teresting features of politics in the state was the popular, and even entertaining, style of campaigning that enlivened elec tions. One receives the impression that if politics was regarded as sinful in New England and sordid in Pennsylvania, it was looked upon as a highly sociable activity in Maryland.

All of the Middle States entered the era of the second party system with a long background of experience in conducting politics on a two-party basis. There was, of course, wide varia tion in the durability of the original party alignments. The Federalists retained their dominance in Delaware until 1827 and were capable of challenging the Republicans in Maryland until 1818 and in New Jersey until 1815. They made their last bid for power in New York in 1816, and in Pennsylvania, although they never came close to obtaining a majority after

1800, they maintained some sense of identity until 1824. Unlike their brethren in New England, the Federalists in the Middle States showed less disposition to “retire” from participation in politics once their party had been beaten. Instead they held doggedly on to control in certain counties.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCormick, Richard P. *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Footnote citation:

Richard P. McCormick, *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era* (University of North Carolina Press, 1966), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

McCormick, *The Second American Party System*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.84

The Election of Andrew Jackson

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	THE ELECTION OF ANDREW JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 192–193 · Supplied edition: Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963.

Excerpt

Ii

Although the election of 1828 did not trigger the "Rise of the Common Man," many glib-tongued Jacksonians during the campaign spoke convincingly of the contest as a struggle for "free principles and unbiased sufferage," between the few and the many, the rich and the poor. "The Aristocracy and the Democracy of the country," intoned the Albany Regency, "are arrayed against each other." This was superheated partisan rhetoric, almost totally devoid of truth, yet invariably appealing and persuasive. Quite a few Americans regarded Adams as an Eastern aristocrat, completely indifferent to their needs or hopes. Since the issue guaranteed a strong emotional response from the unsophisticated, the state committees shamelessly exploited it. They learned in 1828 that presidential elections are most effectively and successfully waged as democratic crusades. By linking organization and the ballyhoo of entertainment behind an appealing candidate who supposedly represented the common man, politicians were able to provide sufficient stimulation to stir the people from their lethargy to a fleeting interest in national politics.

Issues can also fire the electorate with political excitement whenever they are important and whenever they immediately touch the lives of the people. In future campaigns depressions, wars, and other national calamities would bring a truly vast upsurge of voter participation at the polls. Since so many of the issues raised in 1828 were deliberately fuzzed, the success of the Democrats and National Republicans in enticing over a million white males to exercise their suffrage was in itself an extraordinary achievement of party organization.

The two most prominent issues discussed in conversations and in the newspapers were Jackson's inadequate qualifications and Adams' alleged bargain. It does seem probable, however, that these arguments had their strongest appeal among voters previously committed to one or the other candidate. New Englanders were especially resentful of the "bucher's" pretensions, while Westerners found it difficult to disbelieve the bargain story.

Perhaps the most interesting issue in the campaign was the one least understood or explained. Democrats everywhere assured the people that Jackson's election meant the inauguration of governmental reform. Precisely what this meant in terms of legislative or executive action, politicians were not obliged to state; apparently, it was self-explanatory to anyone convinced that Adams' victory in 1825 was engineered by corrupt men of anti-republican leanings. Those "conservatives" who opposed a strong central government or the "liberal" notions of the National Republicans naturally gravitated to Jackson. So, too, those who objected to any restraints applied by the government or such agents as the Second National Bank upon their speculative operations or their schemes for cheap money. (The Anti-Masons may be an exception to this generalization.) The tariff might have rescued the Administration in some Northern states, but Wright, Van Buren, and company effectively spiked that possibility. The result was an increase of votes for Jackson in the Northwest and Middle Atlantic areas without an equivalent loss in the South. For the first few months after the passage of the Tariff of 1828, some Southern hotheads talked of dismembering the Union but soon cooled off in the certain knowledge that Jackson as President would redeem his pledge and repeal the abomination.

Slavery, as such, was not an important national issue in this election, at least not openly. When it rose to the surface it was more plainly visible in the voting performance of particular religious and abolitionist groups in the North than among planters in the South. As a hidden issue it was not sufficiently influential to alter the voting majorities in either section of the country. Said Duff Green, rather optimistically: "The anti slave party in the North is dying away."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *The Election of Andrew Jackson*. Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *The Election of Andrew Jackson* (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963), 192–193.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *The Election of Andrew Jackson*, 192–193.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.85

Andrew Jackson

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

Because of the multi-candidate field, however, Jackson was unable to secure the simple majority in the Electoral College required to win the presidency. The election would thus be settled by the House of Representatives. And under the Twelfth Amendment to the Constitution (ratified in response to the electoral deadlock between Thomas Jefferson and Aaron Burr in 1800), the House would decide from among the three top finishers, with each state delegation receiving one vote. The rules seemed favorable to Jackson. Thanks in part to Van Buren's manipulations in New York, Clay had finished fourth and was thereby eliminated. All that stood between Jackson and the presidency, it seemed, were two supremely sectional candidates, Adams and Crawford—one a diplomat with limited experience in hard-knuckle electoral politics, the other a semi-blind hulk.

Considering how far Jackson had come in only two years, his run had been remarkable. A man of humble origins and minimal schooling, he had risen to win the backing of a broad cross section of the electorate for the highest office in the land. He had bested his sworn enemies from the Florida controversy, Henry Clay and William Crawford, further vindicating his patriotic honor. As president, in the words of one Pennsylvania supporter, he would cleanse "[t]he Giant Augean Stable at Washington" of insider corruption and sectional intrigue.

Jackson did not, however, count on the continuing influence inside the House of Representatives of the resourceful also-ran Henry Clay, who, despite appearances, was down but far from out.

Clay believed that the election of Andrew Jackson would be disastrous, "the greatest misfortune that could befall the country." Reflecting on Jackson's Florida exploits, and on how military usurpation had played out in classical history, Clay told friends that the ex-general's elevation to the White House would "give the strongest guaranty that the republic will march in the fatal road which has conducted every other republic to ruin." Crawford was not much better in Clay's estimation, an enemy of public improvements who, in any event, was physically incapacitated—more so, Clay thought, than Crawford's stalwart supporters were conceding. That left Adams, whom Clay had long disliked (and with whom he had argued strenuously over the Transcontinental Treaty), but who at least shared Clay's nationalist, proimprovement outlook. And so, Clay told associates in mid-December, he would throw his support to Adams, which would give the secretary of state virtually all the state delegations he needed to prevail in the House. On the evening of January 9, the two men met in Washington at Clay's invitation, mainly, it seems, to smooth over their personal differences.

The subsequent allegations that Adams and Clay struck a "Corrupt Bargain," in which Adams promised Clay the office of secretary of state in exchange for his support for the presidency, were highly dubious—and also devastating. The only "proof" of the deal came in the form of an unsubstantiated allegation printed in Stephen Simpson's new and highly partisan Philadelphia newspaper, the Columbian Observer. The idea that sophisticated political men such as Adams and Clay would strike an explicit bargain was (and is) far-fetched. Clay was, in any case, a natural candidate for the post, and would bring congressional influence, personal charm, diplomatic experience, and geographic balance into the new administration, all of which Adams needed. Adams, with Clay's backing, duly won the election in the House. Neither man thought it untoward when, two days later, Adams announced he had chosen Clay to head the State Department—and neither thought it untoward when Clay swiftly accepted.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson* (New York: Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.86

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	JEFFERSON'S TW O PRESIDENCIES
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 117–118 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

One set of pressures for democratic reform came from the organization of new territorial and state governments west of the Alleghenies. As fresh settlers swelled the Old Northwest population, constitutional and political organization became an issue of primary importance. Settlers in the northern territories objected primarily to the fifty-acre freehold qualification for voting in the west ern territories, a restriction inherited from the Northwest Ordinance of 1787. Newly established western newspapers, North and South, railed against all ves tiges of aristocracy, quoting from the work of various British and American demo cratic reformers. In Ohio, radical Republican democrats defended the rights of "laboring men" and farmers, and demanded a constitution "that will set the nat ural rights of the meanest African and the most abject beggar upon an equal foot ing with those citizens of the greatest wealth and equipage." Other democrats were less egalitarian, notably on racial issues, but still insisted that the landhold ing upper class—"a kind of Noblesse," one Jeffersonian called it—should relin quish any claims to formal political supremacy. Although they did not win all they wanted, the democrats created a new state government, and after that a Republican-dominated party system, far more egalitarian than their Federalist adversaries had desired.[46]

Practical considerations also advanced western democracy. Above all, the legal complications of surveying western land and granting freehold titles often were too cumbersome to accommodate any propertied voting requirement. In Kentucky, freehold suffrage, established in 1776 while the area was still part of Virginia, was useless given the state's Byzantine land laws and constant litiga tion over land titles. Hence, the state's relatively conservative state constitution of 1792 conceded universal free manhood suffrage, with no property or taxpaying requirement. In Ohio, delays in granting freehold land titles so restricted the territorial electorate that in 1798, even before statehood, the federal govern ment enfranchised owners of town lots that were worth as much as fifty-acre freeholds. By 1815, Kentucky was the only western state that matched Ver mont's complete elimination of property requirements for voting, but Ohio's constitution of 1803 established virtual adult male suffrage by imposing a mini mal taxpaying requirement (while also restricting the vote to whites, as Ken tucky had done in its revised constitution of 1799). Tennessee sustained a freehold requirement that would last until 1834, but provided as an alternative a trivial six-month residency requirement that was tantamount to granting adult manhood suffrage.[47]

Kentucky, with its wide-open suffrage for white men, was the site of the most dramatic western reform clash of the Jeffersonian years. Picking up where they had left off after the disappointing constitutional struggle of 1799, Kentucky's country democrats, still strongest in the state's rapidly growing yeoman Green River district, turned back to legislative matters, and to a radical version of Jeffersonian-style judicial reform. Led by a resourceful political newcomer full of home-spun eloquence, the twenty-two-year-old lawyer Felix Grundy, the reform ers undertook replacing Kentucky's centralized and (to remote settlers) inaccessi ble court system with circuit courts that would meet three times a year in each county for six-day terms. Demanding an "equal and impartial distribution of advantages and privileges," Grundy and his allies lambasted their opponents as an alliance of parasitic lawyers, lazy judges, and greedy land speculators who feared having local juries decide on their land titles. More moderate Republi cans, including Henry Clay, replied that the proposed reforms would destroy the uniform and independent judiciary that was vital to continued economic growth. But Grundy's forces won a compromise reform in 1802 that enlarged the existing court system.[48]

East of the Alleghenies, southern reformers won a few triumphs. Maryland reformers, supported by Baltimore's city democrats, secured an adult male suf frage law and, in time, additional concessions including popular election of the governor and the elimination of property and religious tests for public officehold ers. A revision of South Carolina's constitution in 1808 partially rectified the state's gross malapportionment by giving the state's up-country counties a major ity of the seats in the lower house of the legislature. A year later, the city democ racy of Charleston joined with backcountry planters (including a young Yale graduate named John C. Calhoun) to secure the franchise for all white male adults who had resided in the state for two years. The Carolina up-country, where politics had been comparatively open and competitive even before the revisions, greatly increased its power in the legislature, with the promise of it increasing even further with future reapportionment now scheduled every ten years. But the reforms also left the state senate securely in the hands of the lowcountry grandees and did nothing to alter the state's high property requirements for officeholding. The lower-house reapportionment wound up benefiting a new class of up-country cotton planters more than it did the pineywoods yeomanry. The state's suffrage debate turned on the claim that enfranchising all adult white men would further entrench popular loyalty to the institution of slavery. In all, democratization in South Carolina ironically went hand in hand with consoli dating the power of the state's expanding slaveholder elite.[49]

Author's Notes

46. Scioto Gazette, July 17, 1802; Western Spy, Aug. 21, 1802; Jared Mansfield to William Lyon Jr., Feb. 20, 1804, quoted in Donald J. Ratcliffe, Party Spirit in a Frontier Republic: Democratic Politics in Ohio, 1793-1821 (Columbus, OH, 1998), 70, 107. Ratcliffc's deeply researched study corrects earlier historians' misimpressions of minimal partisanship in early Ohio politics, and thoroughly overturns what Ratcliffe calls "the myth of gentry control." Other new states in the Old Northwest could use similar reexamination. In Indi ana, for example, one group of relocated southerners wrote to the territorial governor William Henry Harrison that freehold voting requirements favored the wealthy and were "subversive of the liberties of the Citizens and tending to throw' too great a weight in the Scale of wealth." "Petition of the Vincennes Convention, December 28, 1802," Indiana Historical Society, Collections, 7 (1922): 62-67 (quotation on 66). Indianans also secured democratic reforms of voting procedures, including establishing the township rather than the county as the polling unit statewide. See J. D. Barnhart, "The Democratization of Indiana Territory," Indiana Magazine o f History, 43 (1947): 1-21. On party organization in Ohio, see also Noble E. Cunningham, The Jeffersonian Republicans in Power: Party Oper ations, 1801-1809 (Chapel Hill, 1963), 196-200.

47. Thorpe, 3: 1265, 1278; 5: 2901-13; 6: 3414-25.

48. The Palladium [Frankfort, KY], Dec. 11, 1801. On the Kentucky struggles, see John Howard Parks, Felix Grundy: Champion of Democracy (Baton Rouge, 1940), 7-18; Ellis, Jeffersonian Crisis, 139-56; Steven Aron, How the West Was Lost: The Transformation o f Kentucky from Daniel Boone to Henry Clay (Baltimore, 1996), 156-9.

49. The Hornet [Frederick, MD], 1 (1802) no. 47; J. R. Pole, "Suffrage and Representation in Maryland from 1776 to 1810: A Statistical Note and Some Reflections," in Joel H. Silbey and Samuel T. McSeveney, eds., Voters, Parties, and Elections: Quantitative Essays in the History of American Popular Voting Behavior (Lexington, MA, 1972), 61-71; Charles G. Steffen, The Mechanics o f Baltimore: Workers and Politics in the Age o f Revolution, 1763-1812 (Urbana, IL, 1984), 121; L. Mark Renzulli Jr., Maryland: The Federalist Years (Cranbury, NJ, 1972), 211-27; Rachel N. Klein, Unification ofa Slave State: The Rise of the Planter Class in the South Carolina Backcountry, 1760-1808 (Chapel Hill, 1990), 262-8; Lacy K. Ford Jr., Origins of Southern Radicalism: The South Carolina Upcountry, 1800-1860 (New York, 1988), esp. 99-113. On the influence of the writings of Paine and INDEX • 1021 in Middle Atlantic states, 74 moderate, 100, 106, 116, 117, 118, 120-21,122,123,143,14$, 177, 181, 188, 194, 200,211 national bank and, 181 nationalist, 142, 148, 159, 177, 181, 182,205,217, 228,252,259, 287 New England, 91, 133 New School, 211, 212, 242, 245, 286, 304 northeastern, 164 northern, 220, 234, 236, 261, 269, 844 Old School, 212-13, 245, 248, 251, 282, 284 as opposition, 41,49-53, 54, 82, 86, 125, 178 political elite of, 50 pro-banking, 211 pro-Clinton, 159 pro-development, 181 radical, 100, 117, 120-21, 139, 188, 194,211 restrictionist, 227, 235 rise to power of, 138 schisms in, 105 slavery as divisive to, 178, 182 slavery opposed by, 218, 220, 221, 237, 292; see also restrictionists slavery supported by, 218, 219, 225, 228-29, 230, 261 as sole party, 182 southern, 73-74, 203, 205, 236, 261 on state rights, 80 on suffrage, 186 ticket for, 87 top-down nature of, 139 Van Buren, 190, 191 Virginia, 114, 157, 158, 220, 240 voting reform and, 82-83 War Hawk, 144, 163, 176 War of 1812 supported by, 155-56, 158-59 western, 203, 205 see also Democratic-Republican societies Republicans, National, see National Republicans Republicans, Old, 100, 144, 148, 153, 154, 155, 176, 181-82, 201, 217, 227, 230,233,241,261, 295,297, 328, 343,458, 461, 791,834 Republicans, Republican Party, 694, 695, 722-23, 738-39, 744, 751,752,773, 779-81,784, 786, 792, 793,795,927, 933, 942, 943, 949 as anti-slavery, 685, 745, 746, 747, 768, 787, 932 attack on Sumner and rise of, 931 conservative, 696, 944 on Dred Scott decision, 707-8, 711, 713,715 in election of 1856, 695-97, 699-706, 756 in election of 1858, 744 in election of 1860, 744, 758-69, 770 founding of new, 679, 915, 925 Fremont and, 736 immigrant hostility toward, 724 Impending Crisis distributed by, 756 in Kansas, 719 Lincoln as, 225, 700, 735, 790, 794 moderate, 743 nativism among, 703, 705, 722 northern, 689 protectionist, 723 radical, 741, 752, 763,780, 795 South imagined by, 726 Wall Street, 784 Saul, May 12, 1815, in CAJ, 2, 207-8; Jackson to William B. Lewis, July 16, 1820, in Bul letin o f the New York Public Library, 4 (1900): 189; Jackson to

John C. Calhoun, Sept. 15, 1820, in CAJ, 3: 32-33; Jackson to John Coffee, Aug. 26, 1821, quoted in Remini, Course o f American Freedom, 46; Jackson to John Donelson, Sept. 3, 1821, in CAJ, 3: 117. On the suspicions about the BUS branches in the 1828 election, see Robert V. Remini, Andrew Jackson and the Bank War (New York, 1967), 50-51. On the continuing claims that the Kentucky BUS branches were providing funds to Jackson's political opponents, see, e.g., Francis P. Blair to Andrew Jackson, Aug. 17, 1830, in CAJ, 4: 174.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 117–118.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 117–118.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.87

Martin Van Buren and the American Political System

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	National Politician 1821-1829
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 171–172 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

The Regency began to deal with the Anti-Masonic threat early in March, when Azariah Flagg complained that the opposition was using Anti-Masonry to save the state for Adams, who was not a member of the secret order. Since the Jacksonians were in trouble west of the Genesee River, Flagg urged the Regency to do everything possible to control the choice of clerks and sheriffs in the west, because they were so important to the organization as legmen and patronage dealers. He hoped that the Anti-Masons would nominate their own candidate for governor, who would then draw from Adams' candidate and thus assure a victory for the Regency. To conciliate the Anti-Masons the Regency forced a bill through the legislature calling for a special investigation of the abduction of William Morgan. Daniel Moseley, who handled the inquiry, went out of his way to be impartial in order to demonstrate that Democrats were not protecting Masonry.

Fearful that their opponents might combine and carry the state in November, the Regency sought the strongest possible candidate for governor. On March 7, Flagg told Wright that Van Buren could win the election, and although Van Buren was comfortably established in the Senate, members of the Regency urged him to run. At the end of March he confided that the Regency was "persecuting]" him to run, and he was afraid that he might not be able to "avoid a nomination without a rupture" of the party. Since Van Buren did not wish to hurt his state party during the national campaign, he believed that a crisis in his political life was approaching.

Van Buren's sense of crisis intensified in April when he received a perceptive letter from Regency lawyer Lot Clark, who was head of the bar in Chenango County. Clark told Van Buren bluntly that he should run for governor, not just to help the party but also to help himself. No one, said Clark, could get ahead in politics unless he had a military record or had run for office in a major campaign. Even though Van Buren had campaigned for the state senate, he had never really been "before the people," but if he ran for governor, "justices, constables & all the minor active men in the towns [would become] familliar" [sic] with his name. People, Clark said, were used to "manworshipping," and would not join a party unless some "distinguished individual" was at its head. He insisted that if Van Buren stayed in the Senate, he would be a target of both North and South; if he joined

Flagg to Wright, Mar. 7, 1828, Flagg-Wright Correspondence; McCarthy, Antimasonic Party, p. 376; Weed, Autobiography, pp. 258-259.

Flagg to Wright, Mar. 7, 1828, Flagg-Wright Correspondence; MVB to David E. Evans, Mar. 31, 1828, Charles Hamilton Auction, Cat. No. 12, p. 58 (typed copy), VBP.

Jackson's cabinet, hostility to the President would be aimed at Van Buren and there would be little patronage. As governor he could avoid trouble in Washington, strengthen his position by handing out patronage in Albany, and prepare to campaign later for the presidency.

The letter showed that Clark understood the new political system and Van Buren's place in it in 1828. Van Buren, who had failed in

1824 because he had put national ahead of state politics, should return to New York in 1828 and strengthen his base before trying for the presidency. Clark recognized, furthermore, the importance of heroes in national campaigns. At the local level, especially in New York where parties were well-established, patronage and organization were more

important than personality; but at the national level, where parties were just emerging, heroes were indispensable. If Van Buren could gain a popular following in New York, he and his party would have a better chance in future campaigns. Clark believed that even in the throes of a national election, the state party was more important than the national organization.

Before deciding to follow Clark's advice, Van Buren came home and started on a tour of western New York, making his first stop near Auburn on the shores of Lake Owasco to visit Judge Enos T. Throop. If Van Buren was to run for governor, practical politics demanded that someone from the west such as Throop be given the second spot. The year before when Throop presided over the first trial of the Morgan kidnappers, he pleased Anti-Masons by "flaying" the defendants and handing out stiff sentences. When Van Buren left Throop's country estate, rumors spread that the two had agreed to head the Democratic ticket.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984), 171–172.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*, 171–172.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.88

The Presidency of Andrew Jackson

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	A Jackson Victory
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 141–142 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Excerpt

On 12 December 1831 the National Republicans convened in Bal timore, where they nominated Clay for president and John Sergeant, who like Wirt was also defending the Cherokees, for vice-president. At the close of the convention they published an address accusing Jackson of "vindictive party spirit" in his "scandalous" dissolution of the cabinet. The address condemned the president for instituting "universal pro scription," for following "vacillating" policies on the tariff and internal improvements, and for planning the "destruction" of the Bank. "Most important," he had approved of "inhumane and unconstitutional out rages" against the Indians. Because of its stridency the address was more a personal attack on Jackson than a political party platform. The first true platform was adopted by the National Republicans the following May when delegates to the Young Men's National Republican Convention in Washington published a less personal, more straightforward statement endorsing the American System except for the Bank.

Long before these conventions took place, the Globe ended specula tion by announcing that Jackson would run again. The announcement, which came on 22 January 1831, triggered a struggle within the coalition over the vice-presidency. Van Buren was the early favorite because of Jackson's support, but the cabinet turmoil weakened his chances. Old Republicans in Virginia, who normally would have backed Van Buren, were beginning to rally around Judge Philip P. Barbour. Among the pro- Bank, Middle Atlantic nationalists, Louis McLane and Sen. William Wilkins of Pennsylvania were talking about running. Candidates repre senting other wings of the coalition were Unionist senator John Forsyth of Georgia and western agrarian congressman Richard M. Johnson of Kentucky. Other members were suggesting John McLean, and a few even wanted to keep Calhoun as vice-president. With the coalition al ready divided over the cabinet, the scramble for the vice-presidency posed a serious threat to harmony.

At this point, on 17 May, Kendall tried to take advantage of the situ ation by sending his letter to Lewis opposing the nomination of either Calhoun or Van Buren. Kendall, who was visiting Isaac Hill in Concord, New Hampshire, at the time, went over the list of those men in the running for vice-president and concluded that Barbour was the best bet. He recommended that they ask the strongly Jacksonian New Hamp shire legislature to nominate Barbour. If the others in the administration had accepted this advice, they would have been following the longestablished tradition of nominating candidates in state legislatures as well as mending the breach between Jackson and Virginia. They would also have been undercutting Van Buren. consulting "several... friends/' undoubtedly including Jackson, Blair, and the much-interested Van Buren, Lewis wrote Kendall on 25 May, offering a different plan. He first reviewed Kendall's list of candidates and concluded that none would be "satisfactory to the different local interests." The only way to "harmonize" the party, he decided, was to wait a year and hold a national nominating convention in the middle of the following May. He then proposed that the New Hampshire Jacksonians call for the convention. On Kendall's suggestion the state organi zation promptly complied, and on 6 July the Globe published and soon thereafter endorsed the New Hampshire proposal. By putting off the choice of a vice-presidential candidate for a year, Lewis and Kendall helped to restore party harmony and also helped Van Buren, who would be in a stronger position to win the nomination a year later.

The idea of holding a convention was not in itself new. Conventions had been used in local elections as early as the eighteenth century, usu ally in well-populated areas with competing political parties. By the elec tion of 1832 a full-fledged convention system was in force in the Middle Atlantic states and existed to a lesser extent everywhere else but the Southeast. Van Buren had pointed out the advantages of a national con vention in 1827 in his letter to Thomas Ritchie calling for a Jackson party. Such a convention, he had argued, "would draw anew the old Party lines"

and "would greatly improve the condition of the Republicans of the North and Middle States by substituting party principle for personal preference." Ritchie, Benton, and a few other Jacksonians did not support the idea of a convention in 1832, fearing that political concerns would outweigh the old ideals, but they were won over later.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*. American Presidency Series. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson* (University Press of Kansas, 1993), 141–142.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*, 141–142.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.89

The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois

Gerald Leonard

SELECTION	the antiparty constitutional tradition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 37–38 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

1810s left the resolutely regular and ambitious Van Buren in the shadows of the great Clinton by 1819. But then Van Buren went to work. Imposing caucus control on his "Bucktail" wing of the party, gaining control of the Erie Canal patronage, establishing a party press devoted to the principle of party regularity, creating corresponding committees, and deploying circuit-riding lawyers to deliver stump speeches, Van Buren and his allies created one of the most highly organized political machines to that date. The work paid off in the general Bucktail victories in the election of 1820. Van Buren went to the U.S. Senate, and only the governor's office eluded the Bucktails until 1822. All the while, the call for party regularity as the indispensable mechanism of democracy was not just a tactic but an increasingly fundamental principle of the party and plank of the platform.[91]

Van Buren went to Washington in Monroe's Era of Good Feelings with the goal of restoring the nation to a democratic era of openly constitutional con- flict. Finding the Republican party so dominant that it was disintegrating into factionalism, he set out to restore its unity. By 1822 there were at least four nominally Republican presidential candidates in the field, each building a faction within the party, each disregarding the activities of the seemingly moribund Federalists or, worse, seeking to recruit Federalists to their candidacies. President Monroe, a traditional antiparty man of the Revolutionary generation, did nothing to unify the party but rather seemed quite content to let it dissolve.[92] The only hope for keeping the party undiluted by Federalism and true to its democratic principles was to restore its unity behind a single, authentically Republican, party candidate. And the only established mechanism for this purpose was the congressional caucus.

In the absence of an avowed Federalist candidate to contend with, however, no leading candidate would submit his name to the caucus, except William Crawford. Crawford was duly nominated by the minority of congressmen who attended, while John Quincy Adams, Henry Clay, and Andrew Jackson all ran against the legitimacy of caucus dictation. Crawford ran weakly, and the Bucktails botched the election in New York, but they and others of the nation's "radical" Republicans stood by Crawford throughout the House election in defense of the principle of party regularity.[93]

That principle had not proven resonant in the electorate in 1824, but the radicals received a godsend in the House election. The supposed "corrupt bargain" by which Adams leapfrogged over Jackson into the presidency, despite his trailing in the popular vote, was the great event that proved the elite's disregard of the popular will. It showed that the Constitution's mechanisms could be followed to the letter and yet leave the sovereign people without the power to choose their servants. The House election immediately made the anticaucus Jackson the favorite for 1828. But it also gave new weight to the radicals' argument that party was the only mechanism by which the people could guarantee themselves the choice of their rulers, at least until the Constitution was formally amended to guarantee direct popular election of the president.

The Jackson movement of 1828 was not simply a partyist movement. It contained many firm opponents of party, including most of those who had supported Jackson in 1824 against partyist dictation by the congressional caucus. Jackson himself had been an old-fashioned antipartyist.[94] For this reason, Van Buren was wary of supporting

Jackson, but the only alternative was Adams. Adams was not only the son of the arch-Federalist John Adams, bearing a congenital antipathy to the constitutional enumeration; he had also made clear from his first utterances as president that the will of the people was of little importance to him, the will of a party even less.[95] The result was that Van Buren supported Jackson but did all in his power to make his election a party rather than personal success and thereby resurrect party competition. In a now famous letter to Thomas Ritchie, Van Buren insisted that he sought to unify the anti-Adams vote behind Jackson but also to achieve "what is of still greater importance, the substantial reorganization of the old Republican Party," a goal that he acknowledged was contrary to the antiparty prejudices of the mass of the electorate.[96]

Had Jackson been elected in 1828 without the aid of party, perhaps even against the principle of party, as in fact would have been the case if he had succeeded in 1824, that result might have destroyed Van Buren's cause for a generation. Such an election of Jackson would have confirmed for the people that their will could and must be made effective without the mechanism of party. In the event, however, Jackson himself warmed to partyism during the campaign and throughout his two terms. Van Buren succeeded in placing the election of 1828 on an organized party basis in much of the Union and, over time, in turning Jackson into the nation's most important advocate of partyism.[97]

At this point in the story, one might want to conclude that Van Buren and the Bucktails had set the two-party system in motion and that modern democratic politics had arrived. There is a certain obvious truth to such a conclusion. Competition between two major parties, at least on the national level, has been a dominant and enduring feature of American politics since the election of 1828. Significant third-party challenges have sprouted at times, and many individual states have had long stretches of single-party domination. Nevertheless, the two-party system has been a resilient part of American political life since Jackson's election.[98]

Author's Notes

91. See Wallace, "Changing Concepts of Party," 469–71, and "Ideologies of Party," chap. 3. The preceding paragraphs are taken largely from Niven, Martin Van Buren, chaps. 1–6, from Cole, Van Buren and the American Political System, chaps. 1–3, and from Van Buren's own "Autobiography."

92. Hofstadter, Idea of a Party System, 188–200, 226–31; Remini, Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party, chaps. 2–3; Ketcham, Presidents above Party, 124–30.

93. Remini, Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party, chaps. 4–7.

94. Hofstadter, Idea of a Party System, 195; Chase, Emergence of the Presidential Nominating Convention, 110–11.

95. Hofstadter, Idea of a Party System, 233–37.

96. Remini, Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party, 130–33, quotation on

97. On the election of 1828, see, especially, Remini, Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party and Election of Andrew Jackson. On Jackson's gradual conversion to a kind of partyism, see Latner, Presidency of Andrew Jackson, 126–29.

98. A valuable, though brief, survey of the evolution of the two-party constitution is in Milkis, Political Parties and Constitutional Government.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Leonard, Gerald. *The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Gerald Leonard, *The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), 37–38.

Shortened citation:

Leonard, *The Invention of Party Politics*, 37–38.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.90

"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic

Jeffrey L. Pasley

SELECTION	o i Newspapers and Nineteenth-Century Politics
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 6–7 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 2001.

Excerpt

reliance on newspapers. The various permutations of the abolitionist movement were closely linked to particular publications, and many of its leading figures were essentially newspaper editors by profession.

For instance, the emergence of immediate abolitionism among whites is usually dated to the founding of William Lloyd Garrison's The Liberator in 1831. Garrison was a practical printer by trade, who had previously edited a National Republican newspaper in Vermont and then a Baltimore abolitionist paper called Genius of Universal Emancipation, the centerpiece of Benjamin Lundy's gradual abolition movement. When Garrison converted to more radical views, he resigned from the Genius and launched a new journal called The Liberator. As often happened in party politics, journalism came before more conventional forms of organization: the appearance of The Liberator preceded the founding of Garrison's New England Anti-Slavery Society by almost a year. When black abolitionists grew weary of whites' domination of the movement, they tried to establish a national newspaper of their own, finally achieving long-term success with Frederick Douglass's North Star in 1847.** The prominent role of newspapers was an artifact of the American political system's uneven pattern of development. A fully functioning mass party system came into being long before the parties themselves became fully institutionalized.

Excepting the period after the War of 1812, when national party competition temporarily collapsed, mass participation and partisanship in national elections climbed steadily after 1800. By the late 18308, the so-called "second party system" had coalesced, with Whigs and Democrats competing in almost every locality and at every level of government.** Yet the Jacksonian-era parties were usually not legally recognized by government and possessed few permanent institutional structures, to say nothing of the office buildings and permanent staffs that major political parties possess today. The antebellum parties were organized, but they were not formal organizations in the sense that the U.S. government and the Bank of the United States and the American Fur Company were. Wilson Carey McWilliams has suggested that the nineteenth-century parties are best thought of as "civic associations," decentralized networks of allegiances and ideological congruences, causes in the truest sense.*° The civic association thesis does not deny the massive expansion and WE OIIED ES COIL ELE IE IIR EDIE AIDED POLLY UE SAN LAUUNS Utal OCCUITCU GUTS Te date tebellum period, but it does point out the many limitations and gaps in these formal organizations.

Party conventions became common at all levels in the Jacksonian period, and central committees were often appointed, but before the Civil War these bodies were evanescent. Once candidates had been nominated or campaign arrangements had been made, conventions and committees went dormant until it was time to arrange the next convention. Conventions and ad hoc campaign committees provided the party organizations with no continuing institutional presence and no ability to shape the party's responses toward new issues and ongoing events. Politically oriented clubs such as New York's Tammany Society could carry a party from election to election, but Tammany was unique.

No other political club or committee in the country possessed anything approaching Tammany's long-term strength and stability, to say nothing of the palpable institutional authority suggested by the widespread practice of calling the organization "Tammany Hall," the name of the building that housed it.*" During most of the period before the Civil War, the state and national parties typically had nothing similar: no symbolic buildings, no permanent party chairs, no party offices, no employees or spokesmen or means of communication (other than private letters) that belonged

to the party organization itself. The first permanent national party committee was created by the Democrats in 1848, and the new Republican party followed suit in 1856, but even these were weak, existing “less to direct or coordinate matters than to do whatever they could to help.”*® Newspapers filled many of the gaps left by the party system’s uneven development, providing a fabric that held the parties together between elections and conventions, connected voters and activists to the larger party, and linked the different political levels and geographic regions of the country. Party newspapers thus contributed in fundamental ways to the very existence of the parties and to the creation of a sense of membership, identity, and common cause among political activists and voters. Tocqueville argued that because democratic political associations measured their success in numbers and because such large numbers of private, working citizens could never meet together, political associations could be formed only in newspapers: “Newspapers make associations, and associations make newspapers.” The two were coterminous with each other.*” Benedict Anderson has assigned newspapers a prominent role in the formation of national identities, and they performed a similar function for

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Pasley, Jeffrey L. *"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Jeffrey L. Pasley, *"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic* (University Press of Virginia, 2001), 6–7.

Shortened citation:

Pasley, *"The Tyranny of Printers"*, 6–7.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.91

The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828

Lynn Hudson Parsons

SELECTION	THE BIRTH OF MODERN POLITICS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 126–127 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

In 1826 the Albany Regency held on to control of the New York state legislature, which meant Van Buren's reelection to the U.S. Senate was assured, With his seat no longer in doubt, he was ready to make his move. In December he sat down with Vice President Calhoun and offered not only his personal support of the Jackson effort but that of the Radicals who had once supported Crawford. This meant, in Van Buren's count, most of New York's electoral votes (New York had recently changed its means of selection from the legislature to a popularly elected district system), as well as Crawford's old strength in Virginia and Georgia. He promised to visit Richmond and bring Ritchie and the Enquirer into line, followed by a tour of the South and a meeting with Crawford himself. Adding the electoral votes of New York, Georgia, and Virginia to those of the Jacksonians in the rest of the South and most of the West gave the general more than enough electoral votes in 1828. Calhoun agreed. The two shook hands and, as Van Buren later recalled, "united heart and hand" to support Andrew Jackson and defeat John Quincy Adams."

As promised, Van Buren composed a lengthy letter to Ritchie in Virginia, laying out the reasons for Radical support of a Jackson candidacy, sharing it with Calhoun and others before sending it off. Van Buren repeated his conviction that only through an organized political party could true republicanism be preserved. Continuation of an Adams presidency, with its commitment to nonpartisanship, would erode the orthodox republican ideology that had once bound Ritchie, Crawford, and himself in a common cause. Jackson might win the election solely on the basis of his great personal popularity, but a victory without reference to any set of political principles might be no better than another four years of Adams. On the other hand, the New Yorker continued, a Jackson victory obtained "as the result of a combined and concerted effort of a political party, holding in the main to certain tenets & opposed to certain prevailing principles, might be another and far different thing.""

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Parsons, Lynn Hudson. *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lynn Hudson Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 126–127.

Shortened citation:

Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics*, 126–127.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.92

The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era

Richard P. McCormick

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Excerpt

The party balance in the Middle States showed little change from 1832, although Van Buren ran slightly behind Jackson.

Van Buren's candidacy was the crucial factor in stimulating party formation in the South between 1834 and 1836. Those politicians who for one reason or another were opposed to the "regular" Jacksonian leadership in any state but who had not dared to risk a break with Jackson could denounce Van Buren with considerable assurance. Their position was strengthened when they could offer as an alternative to the New Yorker a candidate from their own region, Hugh Lawson White. From another viewpoint, it might be said that Van Buren's candi dacy provided the opportunity for political dissension in the South to manifest itself in partisan form.

What was perhaps most remarkable about the political complexion of the South at this juncture was that Van Buren lost only three states. Obviously there had developed in each state by 1834 a hard core Jacksonian leadership, which might be termed the "regulars," that saw possibilities of victory even with an unpopular candidate. They were doubtless influenced in their judgment by their appraisal of the fact that Van Buren could count on support throughout the nation, whereas the anti-Van Buren parties were unable to unite on a single candi date. However the situation may be analysed, the South had now entered a brief era of two-party politics.

The long process of party formation moved toward completion between 1836 apd 1840. In the South and West both the Democratic and the anti-Van Buren parties entered into contests in state politics. Some notable shifts took place in party allegiances, especially around 1837 in the South. But these defections are difficult to measure because at the same time the intensity of the party competition was bringing new voters to the polls in unprecedented numbers.

It still remained to be determined whether the Whig parties, as they may now be called, could be welded into a nationwide alliance, comparable to that of the Democrats. They might agree on opposing Van Buren and the Democrats and they could unite in blaming the nation's economic ills on the administration, but they would face a critical test when it came to selecting a candidate to oppose Van Buren in 1840 and adopting a statement of party principles. These tests were met successfully at the national convention in Harrisburg in De cember, 1839. There the party leaders, exhibiting amazing technical ingenuity, succeeded in producing agreement on William Henry Harrison and zealously avoided any semblance of a party platform. The Whigs were united for the contest for the presidency behind a candidate who could be inflated to the dimensions of a national hero. Stirred by the prospect of capturing the White House and, no less important, their state capitols, they returned home to launch the most spectacular campaign in which the whole nation had ever engaged.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCormick, Richard P. *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Footnote citation:

Richard P. McCormick, *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era* (University of North Carolina Press, 1966), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

McCormick, *The Second American Party System*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.93

Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse

Richard R. John

SELECTION	The Wellspring of Democracy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 230–231 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

The Wellspring ofDemocracy gress, McLean declared, he would vote for impeachment for such an abuse of power.[95]

Though Livingston's ruse had the desired effect of quashing the potential investigation, it outraged anti-Jacksonians like John Holmes of Maine, who accused him of invoking the "high responsibility" ofJackson's name to mask his true intentions. "Every petty tyrant," Holmes fumed, "is to cover his crimes by this aegis. No, sir, the truth must be that neither the president nor his minions can give any good reason for these corrupt and corrupting measures, and they therefore have to resort to silence as their only defense against an indignant and insulted people. They know, and everyone here knows, that the removals have been chiefly made to provide for partisans, and they are ashamed to acknowledge it."96

Equally evasive were the Jacksonians in the House. In 1832, for example, one administration critic angrily declared that he had recently read that the Jacksonians had settled on the policy of appointing postmasters "for the purpose ofsustaining particular newspapers," by which presumably he meant that they were bestowing public office upon editors who had gone into debt to help finance Jackson's election campaign. It was an allegation that a fair-minded observer of the Jacksonians' appointment policy would have found impossible to deny. Jacksonian stalwart Richard M. Johnson did, however, flatly deny it, adding that the administration had magnanimously decided against prosecuting the newspaper responsible for publishing such a deliberate falsehood, since it was "better that the press should be a little licentious than that it should be put under any restraint."97

Precisely how much Jackson knew personally about the partisan dismissals remains an open question. Surprisingly little direct evidence has survived to implicate him in particular dismissals, while the evidence that has survived has tended to exonerate him from any direct involvement in the kinds of changes that Green oversaw. Jackson probably knew a good deal more than he let on, but intentionally concealed his knowledge in order to shield himself from congressional scrutiny. On occasion, he was perfectly capable of blocking an anticipated dismissal, even if the dismissal was earnestly desired by his trusted advisors.

A case in point was Jackson's celebrated endorsement of Solomon Van Rensselaer as postmaster of Albany. Van Rensselaer had initially secured the Albany postmastership in 1822, following a bitter political battle in which his appointment had been vigorously contested by Martin Van Buren, then a United States senator. With Jackson's elec- The Wellspring ofDemocracy tion, it was widely assumed that Van Buren, now Jackson's secretary of state, would secure his revenge. To frustrate Van Buren's designs, Van Rensselaer joined the horde of expectants who traveled to Washington for Jackson's inauguration, where he secured a personal introduction to Jackson through the intervention of Edward Livingston, an old friend and, like Van Rensselaer, a patrician from a prominent New York family. To impress the old general with his valor, Van Rensselaer was said to have bared his breast in Jackson's presence to reveal the wounds that he had suffered in the War of 1812.[98] Clearly impressed, Jackson assured Van Rensselaer that "your office is sacred." Back in Albany, Van Rensselaer confided to his son that his "little recreation" had proved worthwhile, which indeed it had. Van Rensselaer remained postmaster until 1839, when he was finally dismissed by Van Buren, only to be reappointed by the Whigs in 184-1.[99] All in all, it was a suggestive reminder ofthe extent to which, even after Jackson's election, the gentrybased political order of the Founding Fathers remained intact.

Author's Notes

95. Francis P. Weisenburger, The Lift ofJohn McLean: A Politician on the United States Supreme Court (Columbus: Ohio State University Press, 1937), pp. 73-74.

98. John W. Forney, Anecdotes ofPublic Men (New York: Harper & Brothers, 1873), pp. 281-283·

99. Solomon Van Rensselaer to Rensselaer van Rensselaer, March 23, 1829, in Catharina V. R. Bonney,A Legacy ofHistorical Gleanings (Albany: J. Munsell, 1875), vol. I, p. 470-471.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

John, Richard R. *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Richard R. John, *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse* (Harvard University Press, 1995), 230–231.

Shortened citation:

John, *Spreading the News*, 230–231.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.94

Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The Making of the Democratic Party
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 140–141 · Supplied edition: Columbia University Press, 1959.

Excerpt

Junta in Washington, of which Mr. Van Buren's happy genius is the ascendant influence.... " He was its spokesman, "the head and representative, if he be not both its parent and guardian...." His projects and "schemes for executing them" were notorious, and it was known that he planned to introduce into the Senate of the United States "his system of party discipline, and to procure the rejection of nominations, not upon the question of honesty or fitness for trust, but upon the test of persons' having voted one way or another at a preceding election." The object of his recent remarks, continued the editors, was plain to all. He intended "to control the press here by means of the printing of the Senate, and elsewhere by other means.... " He was a "Master Spirit" by whose agency "machinery has been established to substitute the regular operation of the Government, and to control the popular election by means of organized clubs in the States, and organized presses every where."

The editors closed in on their quarry by broadcasting to the nation the fact that Van Buren was engaged in making the Democratic party. It is "lamentable," they said, that such excellent senators as Dickerson, Macon, Smith, Benton, and Chandlers, "not to speak of others," have joined Van Buren "under the standard of a new cabalistic party organization...." 43 In 1824 the Little Magician acted "with firmness and consistency.... But when he comes forward with the Shibboleth of a new party in his mouth... we must be excused if we treat him as he has treated us, downrightly.... "

Gales and Seaton were not the only outsiders who knew of Van Buren's activities. The Virginia Constitutional Whig reported that the "combinations for electing Gen. Jackson are nearly complete. Combinations—and among whom? The People? No—but the Members of Congress." A month later the editor declared that the "combinations" were of Van Buren's doing.

Unquestionably the Little Magician was engaged in every plan he had been accused of, except one. He was not plotting to subvert the democratic institutions of the country. Rather he believed that the only way to perpetrate a democratic American government—indeed the liberty of the American peoplewas through a strictly regulated party system. If Jeffersonian idealism were to triumph again, Republicans needed basic training in organization. By ranging them under "the standard" of a revitalized party, their liberties would be safe from attack.

The Albany Argus, in Van Buren's name, replied to the tirades of Gales and Seaton and was seconded by the Richmond Enquirer. The "Master Spirit" had just passed through Virginia when Ritchie unconditionally went over to Jackson. Henceforth the Argus and Enquirer exchanged leading articles and the editors began corresponding with one another. The National Intelligencer, its eyes peeled for every shift in the political wind, observed this "congeniality of feeling" between the two newspapers and commented that there no doubt existed some hidden "identity of purpose." Croswell cheerfully assented to this last remark but denied that it was secretive: "Professing a common political faith—members of the same great national party—and mutually seeking to promote its welfare, such 'an identity of purpose' was not only natural, but we are free to say for ourselves, desirable."

The planters and plain Republicans, it seemed, were getting along quite well.

Publicly, Van Buren paid no attention to the attack, but Southerners who were fascinated by his charming manner as he passed among them were only too pleased to echo the Argus and Enquirer. Gales and Seaton "are very angry, too, at Mr. Van Buren," noted the Columbia Telescope, "but as this gentleman is not unlikely to succeed General Jackson

if he keeps steadily to his present plan of public conduct, they will be glad by and by to kiss and be friends." At a dinner given to the Hero of New Orleans by the citizens of Gallatin, Sumner County, Tennessee, the celebrants toasted: "Martin Van Buren —A Republican of the Old School."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1959.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party* (Columbia University Press, 1959), 140–141.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party*, 140–141.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.95

Martin Van Buren

Ted Widmer

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

In one specific sense, the disaster of 1824 brought a great gift to Van Buren. He could hardly have asked for a president who more eerily conjured the ghosts of Federalism than John Quincy Adams, who not only resembled his father physically, but retained his choleric intolerance for the little gestures that oil the machine works of American politics. For all his remarkable talents, Adams was in many ways a maladroit politician, and his heavy-handed nationalism fit perfectly into Van Buren's plans to define a new and pure Republicanism. The so-called corrupt bargain, by which Clay engineered Adams's election in the House in return for a high position (secretary of state), inflamed further opposition, and the Virginia firebrand John Randolph excoriated "the puritan and the blackleg" for their marriage of convenience. Adams's patronage policies exacerbated the prevailing distrust in the air, for he hired former Federalists along with Republicans (Van Buren complained that Adams did not care if his support came from "Jew or Gentile"). What had been a vague restlessness under Monroe now burst forth as a full-fledged opposition party, with Van Buren calling the shots.

Some of these developments took place in the public eye, in the halls of Congress, where Van Buren and his friends began to oppose the policies of the Adams administration. Many of these policies seem quite reasonable in hindsight (a diplomatic mission to a pan- American Congress in Panama, federal support for national education, expanded internal improvements), but they exacerbated the prevailing sense that crypto-Federalists had seized control of the government, and they fed the voracious creature Van Buren was raising.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Widmer, Ted. *Martin Van Buren*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Ted Widmer, *Martin Van Buren* (Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Widmer, *Martin Van Buren*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.96

The Passions of Andrew Jackson

Andrew Burstein

SELECTION	THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 2003.

Excerpt

No one was more direct than the accomplished politician Henry Clay.

Jackson's once and future nemesis spoke before his Kentucky constituents just after the "corrupt bargain" of 1825 had put him in the cabinet. Hardpressed by negative publicity, Clay felt it incumbent upon him to explain why he had helped give Adams the presidency. So he went after Jackson's qualifications: "If General Jackson has exhibited, either in the councils of the Union, or in those of his own state, or in those of any other state or ter¬ ritory, the qualities of a statesman, the evidence of the fact has escaped my attention." His "competency" for the presidency was, Clay added, "highly questionable"; his attainments were merely military. As for the Kentuck¬ ian's efforts on behalf of one so unexciting as Adams, the explanation came easily: he had supported the more statesmanlike man. No matter how the public might laud the general for his gallantry, "the impulses of public gratitude should be controled, it appeared to me, by reason and discretion, and I was not prepared blindly to surrender myself to the hazardous indul¬ gence of a feeling"—it simply was not "prudent," to Henry Clay, to elect a mere "military chieftain" as the nation's chief magistrate. After all, how could a "military chieftain" fully comprehend national purposes in a repub¬ lic, or intellectualize progress? The Jacksonians might counter by compar¬ ing their candidate to "military chieftain" George Washington, but Clay's answer to that was: Washington had exercised "a perfect command of the passions," while Jackson only knew how to kill on a large scale.

That was how things stood in the Clay camp in 1825. Over the next two years, every legislative initiative put forward by the Adams-Clay adminis¬ tration was stymied by the Jackson forces in Congress. Nothing of any sig¬ nificance was accomplished by the time the extraordinarily dirty campaign of 1828 got into high gear—though in a way, the campaign of 1824 never ceased. Clay's friend, Cincinnati newspaper editor Charles Hammond, led the attack by broadcasting his disgust with the "clumsy and fulsome flat¬ tery" shown toward Jackson. In his 1828 pamphlet, View of GeneralJacksons

Domestic Relations, he assailed Rachel unjustifiably for her part in bigamy. Hammond did this by feigning an understanding of Jackson's plight: hav¬ ing responded to a sexually aggressive married woman, he did the proper "fallen from the virtue of chastity," she was "a bruised and broken flower, which he alone can properly appreciate, and cherish." It was a monstrous publication, reducing its argument to the clear implication that, as first lady, Rachel Jackson would, simply by her presence, "offend" society, and sanction "a relaxation of the public morals."

Hammond s attack reflected other, more general concerns. It was as much a jab at Rachel Jackson's lack of class refinement as her past promis¬ cuity. Washington society had developed pretensions: Louisa Catherine Adams, the present first lady, was an accomplished hostess, musical, inter¬ nationally traveled, and long accustomed to being in the public eye. In contrast, the wife of William H. Crawford was criticized in 1822 as "plain, almost to coarseness and is without any of the airs and graces, which seem appropriate to the wife of a president." How much less social skill would the Washington community discern in the frontier wife who managed affairs at the Hermitage for Andrew Jackson?

Edward Livingston was among those urging Jackson not to give way to righteous indignation that the Adams camp could exploit. "Treat it with contempt," Livingston counseled, with regard to the attack on Rachel's virtue. Jackson's old ally had remained in New Orleans all these years, care¬ fully orchestrating a political rejuvenation in his adopted state to coincide with Jackson's surge. In September 1828, Livingston was in Harrisburg, Pennsylvania, campaigning actively on Jackson's behalf in a key state. "I first knew him when we were members of the House of Representatives,

more than thirty years ago," he said in his speech, reminding audiences that he was one of the general's oldest friends. "From that time we never met until he was called to conduct the defence of the city in which I lived. In his conduct of that defence, he developed the resources of mind that pro¬ claimed him equal to any task." Livingston underscored that he knew Jackson to possess a strong sense of personal responsibility, an "energy combined with prudence," and the courage of his convictions in all areas of public life, not just on the battlefield. Jackson, he said, to counter the fron¬ tier candidate's detractors, combined "stern integrity" with "courtesy of manner." And, to show his own sense of propriety and obligation (as well as the ambition to join Jackson's cabinet), Livingston journeyed to Nashville in November. At a public banquet arranged by William Carroll and others, he was heralded as "the able and eloquent defender of our much slandered fellow citizen." Livingston was proving again that he was a "steady, unwa¬ vering friend."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burstein, Andrew. *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*. New York: Knopf, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Andrew Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson* (Alfred A. Knopf, 2003), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.97

The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828

Lynn Hudson Parsons

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 133–134 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

The word “campaign” is a military term. It implies leadership, orders, a hierarchical structure, and above all a willingness on the part of the rank and file to place common cause above individual interest. The penalties for disobeying orders in a political campaign are far less stringent than in a military one, and individuals in a political campaign will always have their eyes on their interests as well as those of the candidate or party, yet most successful political campaigns follow as closely as possible the military model. “To manage men,” said a Jacksonian organizer, “is as much a science as to manage armies.”' It probably was no coincidence that the first truly national political campaign for the presidency was run on behalf of a military figure. In the presidential election campaign of 1828 can be found the elements, sometimes rudimentary, of most elections to come: coordinated media, fund-raising, organized rallies, opinion polling, campaign paraphernalia, ethnic voting blocs, image making, even opposition research, smear tactics, and dirty tricks.

Most, but not all, of these innovations were introduced by the Jacksonians, who time and again proved that they had grasped the significance of the shifting tectonic plates that lay beneath the political landscape better than their opponents. They recognized that the expanding electorate needed to be handled in new ways. They accepted, and for the most part embraced, the role of organized political parties in a republic. They understood, too, what effective political operatives in future elections would also come to understand: that although particular issues can be important, nothing in a presidential election is more important than the image of the candidate. In the end it was the image of Andrew Jackson, the Hero of New Orleans, the outsider untouched by “intrigue and corruption” in Washington, the defender of true republicanism in the face of its “aristocratic” enemies, that would prevail. It was one of the most powerful presidential images in American political history. Combined with the campaign put together on his behalf and the lack of an effective response by his opponents, it proved to be unbeatable.

“Say what you will,” an Adams supporter ruefully conceded after it was over, “these Jacksonians are excellent politicians.””

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Parsons, Lynn Hudson. *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lynn Hudson Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 133–134.

Shortened citation:

Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics*, 133–134.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.98

The Election of Andrew Jackson

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	STRUCTURING A NATIONAL PARTY en
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 78–79 · Supplied edition: Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963.

Excerpt

The problem of the Jacksonian Congressmen was, to a degree, solved by the General himself. When asked specifically about certain issues, he responded by following one of several alternatives: either he took Benton's advice and referred to his voting record in the Senate, or he refused a direct answer on the ground that it might be interpreted as electioneering (and no gentleman would ever electioneer for the presidency), or he wrote long, highly ambiguous replies that could be interpreted several ways, or he ignored the question and simply struck a pose as the Hero of New Orleans cheated of the presidency in 1825.

Yet for all his double talk and concern for his public image, Jackson did subscribe to a national program, one he vaguely alluded to during the campaign (very vaguely) but one he later outlined in detail to Amos Kendall, editor of the Kentucky Argus of the West. As he subsequently defined. it, his program was neo-Jeffersonian and conservative, leaning toward states' rights and the economics of laissez-faire, but so bland and inoffensive that those previously disposed to follow him could not seriously object to a single point.

In the first place, Jackson told Kendall, he intended to reduce the patronage of the federal government. (By interpreting his words as loosely as the rules of language allow, this could mean a policy of economy, though the General did not say so specifically.) The Hero believed that Adams had used the patronage to pay off the men responsible for "stealing" the presidency in 1825, a belief documented to his entire satisfaction by the report on executive appointments submitted to the Senate by Thomas Hart Benton.

Hence, Jackson saw as his first duty the wholesale removal of these

Coalitionists, along with anyone else who campaigned for Adams' re-election. "All men in office," he assured Kendall, "who are known to have interferred in the election as committee men, electioneers or otherwise... will be unceremoniously removed. So also will all men who have been appointed from political considerations or against the will of the people, and all who are incompetent." Throughout the campaign this issue became a favorite theme with Jacksonian editors and politicians, who assured the people that the removals were necessary in order to "purify the Departments" and "reform the Government." "Let the cry be JACKSON and RE- FORM," they thundered. But obviously the word "reform" was hardly more than a euphemism for political head-chopping.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *The Election of Andrew Jackson*. Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *The Election of Andrew Jackson* (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963), 78–79.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *The Election of Andrew Jackson*, 78–79.

CHAPTER 9 · SECONDARY SOURCE S9.99

Andrew Jackson

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

Jackson's actions in Florida raised serious questions of propriety and, at times, legality. After marching to pick up supplies at the site of the Negro Fort, Jackson's forces drove eastward into the heart of Seminole territory, seized the Spanish fortress at St. Mary's, torched the large Seminole settlement of Bowlegs's town, and apprehended the two leading British agents in Florida, Robert Ambrister and Alexander Arbuthnot. After a brief drumhead trial at St. Mary's, an officers' tribunal condemned the Britons to death for inciting the Indians. Jackson, meanwhile, headed west, with the ultimate objective of capturing the Spanish command center at Pensacola. Convinced, wrongly, that hostile Indians had gathered outside the city, Jackson and his troops arrived at the end of May to find it defended by a meager Spanish force whose resistance they briskly brushed aside. Jackson had promised, back in March, to complete his Florida campaign in sixty days. It took him slightly longer than that—but his triumph had come to include winning de facto American military control over all of Florida. And Jackson, flushed with victory, immediately announced he had even greater ambitions against Spain. If provided with additional troops, arms, and a frigate, he informed President Monroe at the beginning of June, "I will insure you Cuba" and further enlarge "the growing greatness of our nation."

But Jackson was forced to repair back to the Hermitage instead of sailing to Santiago. He was suffering flare-ups from his old dueling wounds and from the dysentery he had contracted during the Creek campaign. While convalescing in Tennessee, he learned of a growing backlash in Washington against his Florida adventures. All along, the Spanish minister, Don Luis de Onís, had bitterly protested the American invasion. Only in early July, though, when President Monroe returned to the White House after a month-long absence, did the extent of the outrage inside the American government become apparent. Quietly—so quietly that Jackson actually regarded him as a supporter—Secretary of War John C. Calhoun charged that by seizing Pensacola, Jackson had declared war against Spain on his own, in flagrant violation of the Constitution, and that he deserved immediate censure. Secretary of the Treasury William H. Crawford went further, calling for the swift return of Florida to Spanish authority. Inside the cabinet, only Secretary of State John Quincy Adams defended Jackson's actions as a necessary extension of the campaign against the Seminoles. Thereafter, Adams, with exceptional diplomatic skill, would deflect objections to the American occupation and pave the way to America's purchase of Florida from Spain in the comprehensive Adams-Onís Transcontinental Treaty of 1819. Jackson, however, faced a congressional investigation into his conduct as commander, as well as a wider examination by a Senate committee of the entire American operation in Florida.

The results of the official inquiries were, for Jackson, bittersweet. After a prolonged debate (and with Jackson now in Washington to assist in his own defense), the House defeated all the resolutions brought against him over the seizure of Pensacola and the executions of Ambrister and Arbuthnot. The members also refused to call the capture of Florida unconstitutional. Yet in winning vindication, Jackson had to suffer through repeated public attacks on his integrity. One of the sternest of his critics, Speaker of the House Henry Clay, lambasted him for insubordination, and declared that approval of Jackson's reckless campaign would represent "a triumph of the military over the civil authority—a triumph over the powers of this house—a triumph over the constitution of this land." The Senate investigators, led by political friends of Secretary Crawford, delivered a calm and deliberate report that nevertheless ripped into Jackson, especially over the executions of the two British agents—"an unnecessary act of severity… and a departure from that mild and humane system… honorable to the national character."

Jackson's accusers certainly had ulterior motives. Clay and Crawford were planning to run for the presidency, and found in Jackson's rise to public eminence a potential political threat as well as an appalling turn in American foreign

and military policy. Yet the critics also scored damaging points. Without a formal declaration of war from Congress, Jackson's transformation of the conflict into a war against a Spanish colony lacked constitutional legitimacy, regardless of the congressional verdict in his favor (although, in fairness, President Monroe ought to have shared in the blame). Coming after the squelching of the immediate Seminole threat, the lightning-swift trial and execution of the two British agents served no clear military purpose, and had about it an air of cruel vengeance. But Jackson continued to regard these objections as trivial technicalities, given his sincere belief, shared by Secretary Adams and others, that the Indian menace would end only when the Spanish authority at Pensacola was broken.

Despite his formal exoneration, Jackson would never forget the sour aftermath of the Seminole War and the insults to his reputation. Neither would those Americans for whom Jackson, far from a betrayer of the Constitution, was a hero once again—a patriot who had given his all to protect ordinary American settlers from Indian attack and to uphold the national interest against corrupt, colonizing Old World monarchies, including the sly, everperfidious British. "Among the people," one Tennessee newspaper friendly to Jackson reported, "... his popularity is unbounded—old and young speak of him with rapture."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson* (New York: Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.01

The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States

Alexander Keyssar

SELECTION	emocracy Ascendant
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 29–30 · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2000.

Excerpt

1821; New York acted in the same year. Virginia was the last state to insist extraordinarily complex) freehold law until 1850. And North Carolina fimid- 1850s. Alongside these developments was another, of equal importance: none of the new states admitted to the union after 1790 adopted end of the 1850s, only two property requirements remained in force anywhere in the United States, one applying to foreign-born residents of Rhode Island and the other to African Americans in New York. Yet the demise of property requirements was not identical to the eradication of economic qualifications. Several states had taxpaying requirements even in 1790; a number of others instituted such requirements when they abolished property qualifications, and several of the new western states, including Ohio and Louisiana, also insisted that voters be taxpayers. Although taxpaying requirements were conceptually distinct from property nity but not one's Blackstonian independence), they nonetheless preserved depending on the size and nature of the tax, these requirements could keep substantial numbers of voters from the polls; ironically, the barrier was lowon all household heads. The democratic momentum that overwhelmed property requirements, however, also undermined taxpaying qualifications.

Between 1830 and only six others with taxpaying clauses, several of which were quite minimal. By 1855, thus, there were few formal or explicit economic barriers to vot- This broadening of state voting requirements was paralleled by changes both in federal policy and in municipal voting laws. In 1808, Congress modified the property qualifications in the Northwest Ordinance; three years later it acted more decisively, enfranchising all free white males who had paid taxes and resided in the territory. Subsequent acts of territorial organization for other regions generally permitted either taxpayer or white constitutional conventions of Ohio (1802) and Indiana (1816) were chosen by adult male citizen taxpayers who met a one-year residence requirement; Illinois in 1818 did not even insist on a taxpaying qualification; and several decades later, all free white male inhabitants of Michigan (1835) and Wisrequirement, adopted in 1802 when the city was first incorporated, was dropped in 1855. The patterns of change in municipal voting laws were more variegated.

Differences between state and city (or town) voting requirements persisted into the nineteenth century, sometimes as a legacy of colonial practices, but more often because individual locales wanted to control the entry portals into their political communities. In some cities and towns, municipal suffrage laws the late eighteenth century. In Massachusetts, for example, male citizens who were "liable to be taxed" remained able to vote for town officers despite the laws were similar, while numerous towns and counties in Mississippi, including Greenville, Holmesville, and Shieldsborough, simply ignored the state taxpaying requirement and granted the suffrage to all "citizens of the town." More often, the eligibility gap was reversed: in contrast to the eighteenthcentury pattern, cities and towns that had their own franchise requirements during the first half of the nineteenth century tended to have relatively strict eligibility rules. This was true not only in cities such as New York, where franchised taxpayers only—even though Illinois did not have a taxpaying requirement. Comparably strict suffrage requirements could be found in all

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Keyssar, Alexander. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*. Rev. ed. New York: Basic Books, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Alexander Keyssar, *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States* (Basic Books, 2000), 29–30.

Shortened citation:

Keyssar, *The Right to Vote*, 29–30.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.02

The Age of Jackson

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr.

SELECTION	THE AGE OF JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 12–13 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1945.

Excerpt

Yet the economic program of Hamilton, which Clay took over, was but part of a general social philosophy, the object of which was much less to distribute profits than power. Hamilton's distinction between the "rich and well-bom" and the "mass of the people" had formulated concisely the problem of government for Federalists. While the spirit of Federalism on the national scene tended increasingly to appropriate the language, the principles and the party of dence of its vigor in the years after the second war with Britain. Discontent had welled up with sufficient force in three leading states to compel a scrapping of old constitutions: Massachusetts in 1820, New York in 1821, Virginia in 1829. The delegates included many of the statesmen of the day — John Adams, Daniel Webster, Joseph Story, James Kent, Martin Van Buren, John Marshall, James Madison, James Monroe, John Randolph, Benjamin Watkins Leigh, John Tyler — and their sessions gave a vivid picture of the conflicts which were

The rock on which Alexander Hamilton built his church was the deep-seated conviction that society would be governed best by an aristocracy, and that an aristocracy was based most properly and enduringly on property. Daniel Webster put the argument in its most massive form in his famous speech in the Massachusetts convention. "Power naturally and necessarily follows property," he declared; and again, "A republican form of government rests not more on political constitutions than on those laws which regulate the descent and transmission of property." "It would seem, then," he concluded, "to be the part of political wisdom to found government on property; and to establish such distribution of property, by the laws which regulate its transmission and alienation, as to interest the great majority of society in the protection of the government." "Power and property," as Benjamin Watkins Leigh observed in the Virginia convention, "may be separated for a time by force or fraud — but divorced, never. For, so soon as the pang of separation is felt,... property will purchase power, or power will take over property. And either way, there must be an end of free Government." ^

If power and property belonged together, and if they were in fact together by virtue of restricting the franchise to those who could satisfy a property qualification, the task of neo-Federalism was to prevent their separation - that is, to prevent the flight of political power from men of property.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Footnote citation:

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Little, Brown, 1945), 12–13.

Shortened citation:

Schlesinger, *The Age of Jackson*, 12–13.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.03

The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840

Daniel Feller

SELECTION	THE JACKSONIAN PROMISE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 194–195 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

What laboring people want is labor, work, constant employment. How can they get it? In building shops and building houses; in coal mines; in making roads and canals; and how are all these carried on except by credit in the shape of loans from banks.... If there was nothing but gold and silver in the country, the banks would be limited to what could be paid by gold and silver, and the owners of gold and silver would be the only persons who could employ workmen; so that all men who had nothing but their industry to depend on could have no chance of getting up in the world. It is the banks who give them credit to enable them to rise.... Gold and silver are for the rich—safe banknotes are the democracy of currency.

Democrats and Whigs marshaled upon the battle lines of the "specie system" versus the "credit system" for the 1840 presidential contest. The campaign completed the reconstitution of American politics, as the two parties absorbed the last independents under their mantles. Whigs held their first national convention and chose William Henry Harrison of Ohio to challenge Van Buren. A final detachment of old Jacksonians, aghast at Democratic hard-money ideas, broke off to join them. Wielding new re¬ sources of discipline and enthusiasm, the two sides put on an all-out, razzledazzle campaign topped by the Whigs' portrayal of Harrison as a simple log-cabin farmer and Van Buren as an effete aristocrat. Voters turned out in record numbers, and Harrison defeated Van Buren. The enthronement of a two-party system was complete.

The Reassessment of Character

The emergence of national parties with tentacles extending into states and localities marked, in one sense, the blossoming of America's demo¬ cratic promise. With party fanfare pulling four of five eligible voters to the polls, more men took part in politics than ever before. But the routinization of party strife spelled the death of another compelling vision, of national harmony and unity in the march of progress. In enlisting with parties, bowing to their discipline, and warring on their behalf, Americans implicitly accepted the presence of enduring, implacable divisions within the citizenry. Whig and Democratic prescriptions for the future were in some degree exclusive. Everyone had to choose between them. America's favored circumstance, it now became plain, would bring no release from old-world contention and error. If the party was right, then many of the people were wrong.

Democrats quelled this disturbing reflection by excluding their oppo¬ nents from the ranks of the real people. In their minds the Democratic party was the people; all else was "aristocracy." The two parties were "as opposite as day and night," announced William Leggett in 1834. "The one party is for a popular government; the other for an aristocracy." Andrew Jackson sounded the theme with his warnings to "the people" against the "money power."

With their holistic program and their abhorrence of conflict between classes or interests, Whigs shied from such combative language. Denying any real ground for social antagonisms, Whig rhetoric promoted inclusion, not division. With as much certitude as Democrats, Whigs avowed that they represented, if not the numerical whole of the population, at least its preponderance of brains, talent, industry, and morals. A Whig paper asked what Democrats meant by "aristocracy," and answered: "a majority of the virtuous and intelligent part of the community,... those who are too intelligent to be imposed upon and too independent to succumb to demagogues."

Still, no matter how rationalized or denied, the cleavage of the elec¬ torate essentially undercut Americans' confidence in their uniqueness. The unitary road to progress had divided. No matter how fervently each party clung to its principles, it was hopeless to pretend that either could command universal assent. The broad, easy march to the

future was gone. Americans would have to be pushed and dragged toward their destiny.

Other events of the same years jeopardized Americans' hope of escape from the historical fate of humanity. Depression brought the kind of suf¬ fering that new-world abundance and enterprise were supposed to prevent. Tales of want and woe filled the news. The press reported massive unem¬ ployment and its consequences—homelessness, indigency, cold, hunger, even starvation—among the working population. In New York City there were bread riots.

Americans had endured privation in the past, but this was different. Deepening past 1840, the downturn lasted much longer than that of 1819. Centered in the towns, the distress was more visible and, at least to appear¬ ances, more acute than before. Even more disturbing than the immediate scene of suffering was the question of responsibility. Previous setbacks could be readily traced to external causes—war, diplomatic crisis, or shift in international trade. But no easy foreign villain appeared to explain this panic. Instead Americans blamed themselves, and each other.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feller, Daniel. *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995), 194–195.

Shortened citation:

Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise*, 194–195.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.04

Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson

David S. Reynolds

SELECTION	Forginga National Identity
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 25–26 · Supplied edition: Harper, 2008.

Excerpt

"to civilize the whole [Native American population] (I mean the rising generation, of course) in a single generation." Religious groups such as the American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions aided the government's efforts, which proved, at best, only partly successful in winning Indians to Western ways. Growing frustration over the natives' failure to adopt mainstream norms contributed to the fraud, betrayals, and violence that would frequently characterize federal Indian policy for much of the century.. During Monroe's eight years as president, voting rights increased dramatically for white males. The stiff property or taxpaying requirements that had formerly restricted the vote to a small percentage of the nation's population had largely disappeared by the mid-1820s. Federalist establishments crumbled before the rising forces of democracy. Connecticut's so-called Standing Order, a Federalist-Congregationalist autocracy that had long imposed suffrage restrictions based on religion and property, dissolved after 1818, when a more tolerant Reform government took power.

Similar limitations on the franchise fell three years later in Massachusetts when open-minded Federalists like Daniel Webster won the day over the old-style Federalism of John Adams, who had held that the vote must be based on property. In New York, the so-called Bucktail wing of the Democratic-Republican Party, led by Martin Van Buren, sparked a revolt against Governor DeWitt Clinton's conservative regime that resulted in an 1821 constitutional convention reducing the voting requirements for white males to a modest taxpaying stipulation that was soon dropped altogether. The end of the caucus system also spurred democracy. Since the late eighteenth century, many state and national political candidates had been chosen by caucus, or congressional committee. Cronies within state legislatures formed tight-knit groups that selected candidates for office. On the national level, a party caucus in Congress nominated candidates for president and vice president. As late as 1816, nine of the nineteen states still used the caucus, as did Congress, where a Democratic-Republican Monroe was the last candidate chosen by caucus to win the presidency. The suffrage reform that accelerated during his administration fanned the people's abhorrence of "King Caucus."

In the presidential election of 1824, the sole caucus-chosen nominee, William Crawford, fared badly. By then, just six states employed the caucus, and by 1832 only South Carolina did. What Lincoln would call a government "of the people, by the people, for the people" began to emerge as the caucus was replaced by the party convention or popular vote. There were some spectacular holdouts to suffrage reform. The master-race democracy of the South reached the level of caricature in South Carolina and Virginia, where only a select group of rich slaveholders could vote. In Rhode Island, the old charter granting the vote to the propertied elite, once the most democratic system in the British colonies, had become among the least democratic in the United States. It would take the revolt of the Dorr War in 1844 to initiate a process that opened the franchise in Rhode Island to most white males. Even more disturbing than these isolated exceptions to expanded voting rights was the deliberate negation of these rights for women and blacks. Women had long been excluded from the political process; New Jersey, the one state that had originally given women the right to vote, withdrew it in 1807. Free blacks, facing ever-worsening racial prejudice, experienced the anguish of first having the vote and then losing it. At the nation's founding, ten of the thirteen states had allowed free blacks to vote. By the eve of the Civil War, only five of America's thirty states—New Hampshire, Vermont, Massachusetts, Maine, and Rhode Island—did so, and these states contained a tiny fraction of the nation's total free black population. In the interim, one state after another legally excluded blacks from voting. Several states that had originally given blacks the vote, including New Jersey, Maryland, and Connecticut, formally withdrew it before 1820. Other states, such as North Carolina and Pennsylvania, achieved racial exclusion simply by inserting the adjective white before males in voting regulations. Elsewhere, de facto racial exclu-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Reynolds, David S. *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson*. New York: Harper, 2008.

Footnote citation:

David S. Reynolds, *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson* (Harper, 2008), 25–26.

Shortened citation:

Reynolds, *Waking Giant*, 25–26.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.05

Martin Van Buren and the American Political System

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	New York Politician 1782-1821
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 78–79 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

As contemporary New Yorkers realized, the political implications of the convention outweighed the constitutional. None saw this distinction more clearly than Jabez Hammond, who wrote his history from personal observation. Hammond painted the convention in sharp colors, dividing the delegates into political categories—Bucktail, Clintonian and Federalist; he preferred these terms to the words "radical," "moderate" and "conservative" that some later writers employed. Recognizing the political importance of the convention, Hammond stressed the political struggle over the appointing power more than the ideological debate over the suffrage. "The Bucktails," he said, "were desirous to give the control of these appointments... to the central appointing power of the seat of government... while the Clintonian part of the convention... strenuously opposed the system." The two parties felt as they did, said Hammond, because the Bucktails had control of the legislature and the Clintonians did not.

Hammond was correct; the convention was a political landmark, called for partisan reasons. Clintonians would never have called it because they had done well under the old system; Bucktails, on the other hand, sought to alter a system that had made it difficult for them to gain power. Once the decision to introduce changes was made, the elections for delegates were held on a partisan basis (Van Buren even had to go to a county more reliable than his own in order to be elected), and when the convention met, it was organized on a similarly partisan basis, with Bucktails in command. Dominating the convention was the most partisan politician in New York—Martin Van Buren.

Van Buren and the Bucktails knew that the convention gave them the chance to solidify their political position. Ever since 1817, when Clinton had been elected governor, the chief executive had used Clintonian control of the assembly and the powers of the governor's office to maintain his strength. Control of the assembly gave him control over the council of appointment because the assembly elected most members of the council. As governor, he appointed all the justices of the council of revision. If the Bucktails could weaken the assembly and abolish the councils, they would gain ground.

By the time the convention was over, the Bucktails had done all that and more. Since they had the best organized party in the state, they insisted on changes that strengthened the role of political parties in New York. By reducing the term of governor from three years to two, they made the office of governor more responsive to the people and more closely affiliated to a political party. Moreover, the new plan meant that Clinton would have to run again in 1822 rather than in 1823. By doing away with the council of appointment, they ended a system in which patronage depended on factions and maneuvering in an assembly that was often Clintonian. Under the new constitution most positions were elective and thus responsive to party control; the rest were appointive, generally by order of the governor and the senate. These new arrangements reduced the role of the assembly, which the Bucktails had not often controlled, and increased the power of the senate, which they were sure of controlling. But the Bucktails did not want to depend wholly on popular elections once they were in power. Within their organization control of villages and towns depended on the more than 2,500 justices of the peace, and to influence as many of these as possible Van Buren made certain that the governor was given a share of the power to appoint them. When the convention and Dixon Ryan Fox, who emphasized the debate over the suffrage. Casais, "New York Convention," pp. 73-103; Fox, Decline of Aristocracy, pp. 248-264.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984), 78–79.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*, 78–79.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.06

Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	National Parties and Local Politics
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 173–174 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1990.

Excerpt

Before becoming President, even Andrew Jackson had discounted political partisanship. Though he always considered himself a strong Jeffersonian, he had called for reconciliation with selected Federalists in the years after 1815. Later experiences taught him differently. "'No one can carry on this Govt. without support," he concluded after six years in office, "and the Head of it must rely for support on the party by whose suffrages he is elected." Convinced that the majority of the American voters shared his views and backed his measures, Jackson decided that successful opposition to him could arise only when those whom he once called 'the predatory portion of the community" exploited trivial rivalries over personalities and local preferences to divide the majority and allow the election of candidates who were hostile to popular interests. The natural majority thus needed some institution by which it could find itself, learn its own mind, unite behind a single slate of candidates, and drive all "aristocratic" schemers to defeat. For Jackson that institution would be the Democratic-Republican Party that had been founded by Thomas Jefferson. "I have labored to reconstruct this great Party," he therefore wrote, "and to bring the popular power to bear with full influence upon the Government, by securing its permanent ascendancy."

Many other Americans were not as quick as Jackson and Van Buren to recognize the value of political parties. President Monroe had been acting in a well-established antiparty tradition when he tried to bring Federalists and Republicans together in the so-called Era of Good Feelings, and so had John Quincy Adams when he called upon Americans to uproot "the baneful weed of party strife." So far from regarding parties as the means of preserving liberty, traditional political thinkers had seen them as its enemies.

In 1828 the rival coalitions backing Adams and Jackson had worn the collective labels 'National Republican" and "Democratic Republican," respectively, but in most localities the loosely knit alignments of that contest had scarcely comprised a party system. Most states gave a large majority to one candidate or another and voting turnout was small by later standards, suggesting that sectionalism and deference to traditional elites had as much to do with the outcome as party labels. Though the Jackson coalition was more willing to call itself a party than were the followers of President Adams, its members were still a motley and sprawling collection of diverse elements who agreed on little besides the personal attractions of Jackson himself.

Over the course of Jackson's two terms, the President's actions stripped his original supporters down to fighting strength and gave them a strong sense of group identity. The cumulative effect of the Maysville Road and Bank vetoes, the nullification struggle, and deposit removal was to alienate lukewarm supporters and to create among those who remained a rhetorical commitment in favor of legal equality for white men and against government aid to economic development. Perhaps most important, the emerging Democratic Party shared an emotional loyalty to Jackson and his legacy and a fervent desire, in the President's words, to give it "permanent ascendancy."

To give this body of like-minded supporters a practical structure, Jacksonians had embraced a number of techniques. A far-reaching network of state and county newspapers amplified the voice of the Washington Globe and transmitted news and party doctrine to followers at the local level. Patronage was distributed with an eye to rewarding loyalists and punishing dissidents who refused to support the party's principles or nominees. Perhaps most important, party conventions met regularly to choose candidates and to hammer out consistent platforms. Sometimes the delegates to county, district, and state conventions were elected by gatherings of party members lower down the hierarchy, and

sometimes they were chosen less democratically, but in principle they were all pledged to support a convention's nominees, regardless of whether their own particular favorites won the party's approval. Jackson himself had endorsed party conventions as a means of enforcing unity and urged their extension into national politics. While once he had called for the abolition of the Electoral College and the direct election of the President, he came to put his faith in nominating conventions instead. "This is the only mode by which the people will be able long to retain in their own hands, the election of the President and Vice President,"' he insisted. A Democratic national convention accordingly gathered in 1831 to nominate Van Buren for Vice President and in 1835 to nominate him for President.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America*. Updated ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America* (Hill and Wang, 1990), 173–174.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Liberty and Power*, 173–174.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.07

The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828

Lynn Hudson Parsons

SELECTION	hapter Two
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 43–44 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

state Timothy Pickering, were even prepared to contemplate secession from the Union if the war did not end. Most were moderates, however, seeking ways to arrest what they correctly perceived to be the declining influence of their region and their party—which for them was pretty much the same thing.

No record of their day-to-day deliberations exists.!? Their final report, though not mentioning or even hinting at secession, denounced the war and called for a number of constitutional amendments intended to preserve New England's status in the nation, including an end to the "threefifths" clause that gave southern states representation for their slaves. The report was issued on January 5, 1815. Three days later Jackson and his men triumphed over the British at New Orleans. Six weeks later news of the Treaty of Ghent arrived.

The Federalists never recovered. The Hartford Convention remains one of the all-time leading examples of poor political timing. It was seen at best as an example of selfish sectionalism, and at worst as seditious treason. "As for our beloved native New England," Adams wrote from London to William Eustis, a fellow Yankee, "I blush to think of the part she has performed, for her shame is still the disgrace of the nation." Jackson was more blunt. "Had I commanded the military Department where the Hartford convention met," he later told Monroe, "if it had been the last act of my life, I should have hung up the principle leaders of the party.... These kind of men atho called Federalist, are really monarchrist, and traitors to the constituted government.""' In opposing a war that most Americans believed had ended with a glorious victory, the Federalists placed themselves outside the pale of the consensus that emerged in the wake of the war. Although they remained a force to be reckoned with in a handful of states, including Massachusetts, Connecticut, and Delaware, their days as a national party were over. Those who still claimed the title were put on the defensive. kkk It is now clear to most historians that the American Revolution did more than sever the colonies' ties with the British Empire. It encouraged as well a newer version of republicanism that went beyond rejection of monarchy and aristocracy, beyond the alleged tension between liberty and power, and beyond the demand for simplicity in dress and manners. In the years =... rtwseo4r© _ - 41: the past had been excluded by a lack of property. A younger generation of American republicans was prepared to argue that if the revolutionary mantra "No taxation without representation" was followed to its logical conclusion, those who are taxed should have a say in selecting who was to do the taxing.

Not everyone was comfortable with this, including many of the revolutionary leaders themselves. John Adams, just before he signed the Declaration of Independence, was one. "Depend upon it, Sir," he lectured a fellow Massachusetts citizen, "itis dangerous to open so fruitful a source of controversy and altercation as would be opened by attempting to alter the qualifications of voters; there will be no end to it. New claims will arise; women will demand the vote; lads from twelve to twenty-one will think their rights not enough attended to; and every man who has not a farthing, will demand an equal voice with any other, in all acts of state."!"

The elder Adams spoke for the eighteenth-century view of republicanism, common in both Britain and America. They believed that legitimate government rested on the consent of the governed, as Thomas Jefferson had famously stated, but they also believed that consent should be obtained only from those who had a "stake in society." In most cases this meant ownership of property, preferably real estate. Moreover, those without property—renters or employees, for example—inevitably would be intimidated or manipulated by those with property; consequently they

had, as the phrase had it, “no will of their own.” Eighteenth-century republicans, in other words, were not democrats. They were products of, and lived in, what has been frequently called a “deferential” society, one in which citizens were equal before the law, but which was still “leaderoriented.”"° Political power was in most cases reserved to “gentlemen of property and standing.” Thus Founders such as John Adams, Alexander Hamilton, and James Madison had no difficulty connecting republican ideas of sturdy individual independence with a property qualification for voting. Even the young Andrew Jackson, as a member of the Tennessee Constitutional Convention, had favored a property qualification for officeholders, although not for voters.

Historians are not in agreement as to how limiting this qualification actually was, when land in America was more easily attained than in Europe. And while the older, property-oriented version of republicanism was in retreat in the years following the Revolution, there were limits to a. 4. xtr'.111 rte _ +

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Parsons, Lynn Hudson. *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lynn Hudson Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 43–44.

Shortened citation:

Parsons, *The Birth of Modern Politics*, 43–44.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.08

The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era

Richard P. McCormick

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Excerpt

The Antimasons did succeed in bringing to the polls men to whom the major parties had little appeal. Voter participa tion rose markedly after 1830, rising to over 45 per cent of the estimated electorate in 1834. When the party fell apart, these new voters apparently retained their political interest, and the major portion of them seem to have moved into the Democratic ranks. Too, the Antimasons may have had the effect of inducing the major parties to exhibit increased con cern about the reform measures that were being agitated at the time. Neither the Whigs nor the Democrats were disposed to offer substantial concessions to the Antimasons, however, with the result that there was no "amalgamation," such as was to occur in certain other states. Basically, the Antimasonic party, like the Workingmen's party—which flourished briefly in the same years—reflected popular discontent or frustration with the two major parties.

After 1835 the Democrats steadily narrowed the margin that separated them from their opponents. In 1836 Van Buren received 45 per cent of the popular vote, the strongest showing made by any Democratic presidential candidate until after the Civil War. Marcus Morton, the perennial candidate for governor, increased his vote from around fifteen thousand in 1833 to over fifty-one thousand in 1839, when he finally won an election. The Whig vote, meanwhile, had remained rela tively stable. The Democrats obviously profited more than the Whigs from the demise of the Antimasons. Too, the party leaders were compelled to make concessions both to a "Workingmen" faction and a western "Country" faction, with the result that the image of the party as a spokesman for the "common man" was strengthened. In 1838 George Bancroft replaced Henshaw both as collector of the Port of Boston and as the party leader, and under his guidance the party was reorganized on "reform" principles and reached its peak effec tiveness. As the parties became more competitive, voter par ticipation rose to a new high of 66 per cent in the 1840 elec tions.

The formal structure of the major parties underwent little change. Although both Whigs and Democrats resorted on oc casion to the use of state conventions, especially in prepara tion for presidential elections, the caucus and the Central Committee were retained as the prime agencies of state party management. Campaign practices remained relatively sedate, until the election of 1840, with its enormous mass meetings, popular oratory, and generally festive atmosphere, broke down the traditional reserve. It was, indeed, with the election of

1840 that the new order of politics that had its inception in the revival of the contest for the presidency sixteen years earlier finally reached maturity.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCormick, Richard P. *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

Footnote citation:

Richard P. McCormick, *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era* (University of North Carolina Press, 1966), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

McCormick, *The Second American Party System*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.09

Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	ntroduction: Stollenwerck's Panorama, 1815
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

(although there were unmistakable aEnities); their elucidation of "practical," wage-conscious American unionism did, however, help forestall more expansive treatments of class relations and of working-class beliefs and behavior.[7]

Counter-Progressives like Hofstadter and Benson demolished what had become Progressive orthodoxy by taking another look at the liberal ideology and social composition of the Democrats and Whigs—and by finding that the two parties' similarities overwhelmed their differences. In refuting the Progressives, however, American historians from the late 19405 through the early 19705 retained some of their elders' assumptions, above all their fixation on party politics and their willingness to understand class as an abstract institution. By equating class with wealth and occupation, and by taking either voting behavior or the actual social philosophy of party politicians.(and of a few supposedly "radical" splinter parties) as leading indicators of popular consciousness, the counter-Progressives discovered a past in which political conflict turned on deep ethnic, religious, and "status" divisions but in which class and class consciousness were either nonexistent or submerged by an American entrepreneurial consensus.[8]

While they cleared the way for a more realistic appraisal of party politics and political culture, the counter-Progressives left a great deal to be explained about Jacksonian New York and Jacksonian America. The obvious and growing inequalities of wealth and power in the early-nineteenth-century metropolis seemed to demand closer attention than most counter-Progressives were willing to pay. It was still possible, of course, to argue that these inequalities did not shake the fundamental American consensus or that the politicians handled them in ways that did not upset their own political power. Nevertheless, the sheer mass of the evidence placed enormous strains on the notion that ethnicity or consensus negated class differences.[9] Moreover, the counter-Progressives offered no way for understanding the abundant evidence of labor radicalism and of class formation and recurrent conflict in early-nineteenth-century New York. How could the counter-Progressives with their "ethnocultural models" explain the rise and brief political success of the Working Men of 1829 and their leader Thomas Skidmore—a man who called for a civil revolution and the equalization of property relations? How could they make sense of the class-conscious, inter-ethnic New York labor movement of the mid-

18305, the strike waves and labor uprisings of 1836 and 1850, or the working-class unrest discussed by Robert Ernst in his important study of the city's immigrants?[10] The most sustained counter-Progressive attempt to do so, by Walter E. Hugins, preserved the consensus formula, but only by adapting the work of the early labor historians to describe artisan radicals as entrepreneurial reformers and the labor movement as an expression of narrow, "practical" trade unionism.[11] Yet ever since, apart from Edward Pessen's examination of the ideas of some of New York's "uncommon" Jacksonian labor leaders, no plausible alternative to the counter-Progressives' arguments has appeared.[12]

Author's Notes

7. See Dixon Ryan Fox, The Decline of Aristocracy in the Politics of New fork, 1801-1840 (New York, 1919); Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., The Age of Jackson (Boston, 1945); John R. Commons et al., History of Labour in the United States (New York, 1916), I; Selig Perlman, A Theory of the Labor Movement (New York, 1928).

8. Richard Hofstadter, "William Leggett, Spokesman of Jacksonian Democracy," PSQ 58 (1943): 581-94; idem, The American Political Tradition (New York, 1948), 56-85; Lee Benson, The Concept of Jacksonian Democracy: New York as a Test Case (Princeton, 1961). For fuller remarks and a brief overview, see Sean Wilentz, "On Class and Politics in Jacksonian America," in The Promise of American History: Progress and Prospects, ed. Stanley I. Kutler and Stanley N. Katz (Baltimore, 1982), 45-63.

9. See Edward* Pessen, Riches, Class, and Power before the Civil War (Lexington, Mass., 1973).

10. Ernst, Immigrant Life in New York City, 1825-1863 (New York, 1949), 99-121.

11. Hugins, Jacksonian Democracy and the Working Class: A Study of the New York Workingmen's Movement, 1829-1837 (Stanford, 1960).

12. Pessen, Most Uncommon Jacksonians: Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement (Albany, 1967). Douglas M. Miller, Jacksonian Aristocracy: Class and Democracy in New York, 1830-1860 (New York, 1967), contradicts the counter-Progressives but offers little in the way of an analysis of class formation and consciousness beyond what was presented earlier by the Progressives and the Commons school. Counter-Progressive formulations have been more successfully challenged in studies of other states and regions. See above all, Donald B. Cole, Jacksonian Democracy in New Hampshire, 1800— 1851 (Cambridge, Mass., 1970); James Roger Sharp, The Jacksonians versus the Banks: Politics in the States after the Panic of 1837 (New York, 1970); Harry L. Watson, Jacksonian Politics and Community Conflict: The Emergence of the Second Party System in Cumberland County, North Carolina (Baton Rouge, 1981).

13. Among the most important of these works on the history of the United States are Alan Dawley, Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn (Cambridge, Mass., 1976); Paul G. Faler, Mechanics and Manufacturers in the Early Industrial Revolution (Albany, 1981); Leon Fink, Workingmen's Democracy: The Knights of Labor and American Politics (Urbana, 1983); Lawrence Goodwyn, Democratic Promise: The Populist Moment in America (New York, 1976); Gutman, Work, Culture, and Society; Bruce G. Laurie, Working People of Philadelphia, 1800- 1850 (Philadelphia, 1980); David Montgomery, Beyond Equality: Labor and the Radical Republicans, 1862-1872 (New York, 1967). On the eighteenth century, see Foner, Tom Paine; on the twentieth, see James R. Green, Grass Roots Socialism: Radical Movements in the Southwest, 1895-1943 (Baton Rouge, 1978). In other ways, the revitalization of historical materialism undertaken by Eugene D. Genovese (in recent years, in collaboration with Elizabeth Fox-Genovese) has had a continuing influence on my thinking about capitalism, ideology, and property relations. See, above all, their articles collected in Fruits of Merchant Capital: Slavery and Bourgeois Property in the Rise and Expansion of Capitalism (New York, 1983).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850* (Oxford University Press, 1984), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Chants Democratic*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.10

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 516–517 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

The Jacksonians also created the first mass democratic national political party in modern history—the institutional basis for mobilizing and then consolidating political loyalties and participation. Earlier approximations of mass parties had arisen over sharp ideological differences and devised effective means to spread their messages, get their supporters to the polls, and struggle over government policy at the local and national levels. More than the conventional historical wisdom on the "deferential-participant" politics of the era allows, there was a great deal of democracy in Jeffersonian Democracy. But to the founding gener ation, the idea of parties still remained tainted with associations to vicious fac tions that would corrupt and divide the republican commonwealth, and a great deal of power in national and state politics remained formally concentrated in the hands of small and constricted elites, concretized in the congressional nom inating caucus.[2]

The Jacksonian party that emerged out of the collapse of the "one-party" period and the death of the caucus system dispensed with those fears and greatly enlarged on earlier forms of party organization. Elections were the crucial events for this new democracy, toward which all organizing efforts led. But elections were only the culmination of a continual effort to draw together the faithful. In place of the discarded nominating caucuses, the Jacksonians substituted a national network of committees, reaching up from the ward and township level to the quadrennial national convention, each a place where, at least in principle, the popular will would be determined and ratified. The political ferment contin ued almost year-round, with local committees calling regular meetings to approve local nominations, pass public resolutions, and mount elaborate proces sions. Sometimes, as in the Tammany Hall meeting that brought the Loco Foco schism in 1835, these party gatherings could get out of hand, further reinforcing conservative prejudices like Philip Hone's about "the dunghill of Democracy." But even at their most tumultuous, the Jacksonians could claim that more than any previous party or faction, they honored what New York's Evening Post called "[t]he democratic theory... that the people's voice is the supreme law."73

The Jacksonians did not, however, fully reconcile themselves to the idea of what later historians and social scientists would call a party system. Seeing them selves as the authentic legatees of the Jeffersonian Republicans, they assumed that if they did their work correctly, they would forever hold the opposing aristo cratic party at bay. Far from regarding themselves as simply an electoral machine, they believed they were the constitutional party of the sovereign peo ple. They were an organization, as Jacksonians ceaselessly reiterated, "of princi ples, not of men," in which active devotion to the part}' would sustain the classless Constitution. Lacking the private resources of the aristocrats of "associ ated wealth," the people had no choice but to organize as a party—virtually along military lines with ballot boxes as their weapons —to sustain their sover eignty. The few, in response, would be free to organize their own opposition party—a focus of competition that would make the Jacksonians' own political efforts more disciplined. But the Jacksonians never envisaged an operational con test between rival political organizations, or what the Evening Post called "the mere struggle of ambitious leaders for power." Instead, they expected a two-party system in which they, the party of popular sovereignty, would hold power more or less in perpetuity, unless, as Van Buren said, diminished zeal led to "the grad ual abandonment of the principles it sustained."74

The politics of the 1830s proved how elusive Van Buren's party vision actually was —and how unstable the Democracy remained. Thanks, chiefly, to the newschool Whigs, the opposition not only improved on the Democracy's election eering tools; it devised a contrasting democratic message that struck a deep nerve in the

electorate that the Democrats did not even realize was there. And quite apart from Van Buren's defeat in 1840, the Democracy confronted internal diffi culties and external challenges that majoritarian politics could not fully handle. The return of John C. Calhoun threatened to turn the party into a handmaiden for Calhoun's pro-slavery nullifier views. The appearance of the political aboli tionists, although only a minor force in 1840, promised to prolong and intensify agitation over slavery. The stigma of the depression forced Democrats to think anew about the hard-money principles that had become a cornerstone of their democratic politics. So did the loss of both the White House and the Congress.

Larger ideological questions arose as well. How long could Democrats, in the name of preserving sectional harmony, back the gag rule and other attacks on free speech without fatally compromising their own ideals of equal rights? How long could the Democracy present itself as the party of the producing classes and still defend the interests of slaveholders —men whom some Democrats had begun regarding as nonproducers who lived, as Thomas Morris declared in the Senate, "upon the unrequited labor of others"? The very raising of those ques tions, meanwhile, caused consternation among southern Master Race Demo crats, for whom the bondage of blacks had become a basic precondition for securing political equality among whites. How, in their eyes, could equality be preserved if the very foundation of equality came under question? How could democracy endure without slavery, or with slavery under assault?

Author's Notes

2. CG, 35th Congress, 1st session, 939-45 (quotations on 941).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 516–517.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 516–517.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.11

The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States

Alexander Keyssar

SELECTION	The Right to Vote
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 54–55 · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2000.

Excerpt

Women, African Americans, and Native Americans One of the earliest acts of suffrage restriction—or retraction—was the disfranchisement of women in New Jersey in 1807. Both the state's constitution of 1776 and an election law passed in 1790 granted the right to vote to all "inhabitants" who otherwise were qualified: this was interpreted locally to mean that property-owning women could vote. New Jersey's policy was exceptional—although throughout the new nation there were individuals who followed the logic of "stake in society" arguments across the customary border of gender and concluded that women (such as widows) should be enfranchised if they possessed property and were not legally dependent on men. Why the state of New Jersey embraced this minority view is unclear, but the enfranchisement of women was definitely not inadvertent and appears to have been grounded at least in part in factional politics. As different political groups struggled to gain ascendancy during and just after the revolution, they tried to enlarge their potential constituencies, one of which was female.

Yet what partisan politics could give, it also could take away. By the early nineteenth century, the balance of political power had shifted, charges of voting fraud were rampant, and the Federalists, as well as two competing groups of Republicans, concluded that it was no longer to their advantage to have all "inhabitants'—including women, aliens, and African Americans—in the electorate. After the impulse to clean up politics had been bolstered by a flagrantly corrupt election to select the site for a new courthouse in Essex County, New Jersey's legislature took it upon itself to declare that "no person shall vote in any state cr county election for officers in the government of the United States or of this state, unless such person be a free, white male citizen." Those who supported this retrenchment made little or no mention of the incapacity or incompetence of women; they were simply fighting corruption, correcting a "defect" in the constitution, and clearing up "doubts" about the composition of the electorate. Once that constitutional defect had been corrected, women everywhere in the nation were barred from the polls.!

African Americans were the target of a far more widespread movement, in the North as well as in the few pockets of the South where free blacks had sometimes voted. As tables A.4 and A.5 make clear, the number of states that formally excluded free African Americans was relatively small at oO 7 £4 90 permitted blacks to vote during the first years of independence, including New Jersey, Maryland, and Connecticut, limited the franchise to whites before 1820. New York excluded the vast majority of blacks (by instituting a racially specific set of property and residence requirements) in the same constitution in which it removed property qualifications for whites. In 1835, North Carolina added the word white to its constitutional requirements, and Pennsylvania, which had such a liberal constitution during the revolutionary era, did the same in 1838, two years after its supreme court had ruled that blacks could not vote because they were not "freemen." Of equal importance, every state that entered the union after 1819 prohibited blacks from voting. In the late 1840s and early 1850s, moreover, many states (including New York, Ohio, Indiana, and Wisconsin) reaffirmed their racial exclusions, either in constitutional conventions or through popular referenda. By 1855, only five states (Massachusetts, Vermont, New Hampshire, Maine, and Rhode Island) did not discriminate against African Americans, and these states contained only 4 percent of the nation's free black population. Notably, the federal government also prohibited blacks from voting in the territories it controlled; in 1857, the Supreme Court ruled that blacks, free or slave, could not be citizens of the United States.?

The sources of this exclusionary impulse shifted somewhat over time. Early in the period, there was an almost matter-of-fact quality to decisions to bar African Americans, who were widely believed to be inferior and lacking in

potential republican virtues. Since slaves obviously were ineligible to vote and most free blacks could not meet property and taxpaying requirements, formally expressed racial barriers would affect relatively few people, especially in the North. Yet with each passing decade the free black population grew, the abolition of property requirements made it possible for poor, uneducated blacks to vote, and inhabitants of Northern states grew increasingly apprehensive about the prospect of attracting black migrants from the South.

More important, perhaps, was an efflorescence of racism: while abolitionist sentiment was growing, so too were sharply antagonistic, fearful, and hostile attitudes toward blacks. This hardening of attitudes was discernible in the language with which the issue was discussed. At the New York convention in 1821, for example, a delegate opposed to black suffrage rather temperately had described blacks as "a peculiar people, incapable, in my WHiement aleercicnorthat nrinllecessith anvieart of diccretion nridence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Keyssar, Alexander. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*. Rev. ed. New York: Basic Books, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Alexander Keyssar, *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States* (Basic Books, 2000), 54–55.

Shortened citation:

Keyssar, *The Right to Vote*, 54–55.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.12

The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America

Alexander Saxton

SELECTION	The Rise and Fall of the White Republic
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 166–167 · Supplied edition: Verso, 1990.

Excerpt

After our countrymen had, by force of native genius in the arts, arms, science, philosophy and poetry, &c, &c, confuted the stale cant of our European detrac¬ tors that nothing original could emanate from Americans - the next cry was, that we have no NATIVE MUSIC;... until our countrymen found a triumphant vindicating APOLLO in the genius of E.P. Christy, who... was the first to catch our native airs as they floated wildly, or hummed in the balmy breezes of the sunny south.

The verbs floated and hummed served partially to obscure the fact that 'our native airs' had been appropriated from the music and dance of African slaves by white professional entertainers, including (among many others) E.P. Christy. Later in the same preface a more realistic account of the actual relationship described the minstrels as having possessed 'science and practical skill in music to enable them to harmonize and SCORE systematically the original NEGRO SOLOS...' Their labors had resulted in filling 'the air of our broad, blest land... with the thousand native melodies.'

This explanation, with which Twain would probably have concurred, stressed the rural, southern origins of minstrelsy; yet it seems evident that the spread of blackface minstrelsy was closely linked to the rise of the mass circulation press and the nationalization of theater. Hannibal, Mis¬ souri, for example, which in Twain's childhood was a rural slaveholding community, could hardly have found fragments of African music and caricatures of black slaves particularly surprising. What made the first minstrel show a 'glad' surprise was that it provided a window into the complex culture developing in the new cities. Through that window ap¬ peared cultural identifications and hostilities, ethnic satire, and social and political commentary of a wide-ranging, sometimes radical character. In addition, the shows often transmitted sexual messages. Taken as a whole, they provided a kind of underground theater in which the blackface con¬ vention rendered permissible topics that were difficult to handle explicitly on the Victorian stage or in print. Spontaneity and ad-libbing, built into minstrelsy from its inception, favored a flexible approach to different audiences and regions, changing moods and times. This combination of adaptiveness and liberty of subject explains in part the popularity and staying power of minstrelsy as mass entertainmentJ Finally, the conven¬ tion of blackface was by no means separate from, or neutral with regard to, social content; on the contrary, the blackface convention saturated that content. For a study of the ideology of minstrel shows, the interpenetra¬ tion of form and content is at the crux of the matter.;

The content of minstrelsy was shaped in part by the social experience of its founders and purveyors. Three men, Thomas Rice, Dan Emmett and E.R Christy, are generally recognized as founders of blackface minstrelsy. To these should be added the name of Stephen Foster, the major white innovator of minstrel music. Where did these men come from and how did they happen to launch a new mode in mass entertainment? Rice, oldest of the four, was born in New York in 1808. He tried unsuc¬ cessfully to break into New York theater, then drifted west, working as stagehand and bit player throughout the Mississippi Valley. In 1831, im¬ itating a shuffle he had seen performed by a black man on the Cincinnati levee, Rice for the first time 'jumped Jim Crow' - and Jim Crow made Rice's fortune. Adapting his act to various issues - eventually including a minstrel burlesque of Uncle Tom - Rice was applauded in London and became a perennial favorite at New York's famous Bowery Theatre. The second founder of minstrelsy,

Dan Emmett, son of a village blacksmith in Mt. Vernon, Ohio, was born in 1815. He ran away to become a drum¬ mer in the army and served briefly at posts in Kentucky and Missouri. Dismissed for being underage, Emmett followed circuses and sideshows, occasionally singing comic songs in blackface. Early in 1843 he organized the first blackface quartet as a one-night fill-in at New York's Chatham Theatre. Emmett devoted the rest of his long career to minstrelsy.

Edwin R Christy, also born in 1815, was the son of 'respectable' Philadelphia parents who sought to launch him on a commercial career by arranging to place him in a New Orleans counting house. Christy rebelled and took to the road with traveling circuses. In 1843, he and several other young men were providing musical entertainment at a theater-saloon on the Buffalo waterfront. Apparently having heard of Emmett's success in New York, the Buffalo entertainers called themsevles Christy's Plantation Minstrels; later, moving down to New York City, they became a permanent fixture at Mechanic's Hall on lower Broadway. It was through Christy's Minstrels that many of Stephen Foster's early songs reached the public. Foster, eleven years younger than Christy or Emmett, was born in Pittsburgh in 1826. Like Christy, he came of parents with intimations of upward mobility who tried to provide him with a proper education, then sent him off to work as a bookkeeper for an older brother in Cincinnati. Foster was meanwhile writing songs for minstrel shows for which he received ten or fifteen dollars apiece. His 'Old Folks at Home', according to the publisher, sold 130,000 copies in three years.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saxton, Alexander. *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America*. London: Verso, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Alexander Saxton, *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America* (Verso, 1990), 166–167.

Shortened citation:

Saxton, *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic*, 166–167.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.13

Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory

Claudio Saunt

SELECTION	UNWORTHY REPUBLIC
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 94–95 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Excerpt

were white women and children), and in Georgia and Alabama both were prohibited from testifying under oath against white people. (In Mississippi, native peoples were allowed to take an oath; Alabama's prohibition was partially removed in 1832.) The reasons given for disallowing testimony by native peoples scarcely concealed the underlying self-interest. Native peoples did not believe in eternal punishment and therefore could not be counted on to tell the truth, said Georgia senator John Forsyth. Their testimony, wrote an editorialist, would jeopardize "the dearest rights of civilized freemen." White Georgians greeted suggestions to revoke the prohibition in the same way they met even the faintest proposals to ameliorate the conditions of slaves—with outrage and alarm. "Indian testimony," according to the state capital's Federal Union, would "reconcile the savage to a permanent residence in Georgia," open "all the doors of office," "effect an amalgamation of colors," and "place the lives and property of the whites at the mercy of a relentless and exasperated barbarian."' The absurd rhetoric was nonetheless effective; Wilson Lumpkin made it the center of his successful gubernatorial campaign in 1831.

Under state law in the South, free African Americans and native peoples were anomalous and unwelcome. In Mississippi, an 1822 law required every "free negro or mulatto" between the ages of sixteen and fifty to quit the state within ninety days or be sold into slavery for five years. In Alabama, a similar 1832 law prohibited all free persons of color from settling in the state, on penalty of whipping and, if not departing within twenty days, enslavement for one year. In Georgia, free "people of color" who entered the state were bound out as laborers until they could pay a fine of sroo, in practice consigning most of them to a life of servitude. The penalties in Georgia for native peoples were less severe, though the underlying commitment to white supremacy was the same. 'The state passed a law in 1828 that prohibited Creek people from crossing into the state without a permit. Those caught illegally "strolling over the territory of said state" were subject to ten days in prison."° Were Indians not also "people of color"?

'Abstractly, there is no difference,' opined the Southern Recorder in 1827, though in the minds of white southerners as well as in the laws themselves there was much confusion about the matter. Most statutes did not define their terms. Mississippi law specifically gave "said persons called Indians, and their descendants" the same rights as free white people but did not define "said persons." Some of them had African ancestry. At what point would they no longer be deemed to be "Indians"? An 1835 Georgia law targeting slaves and free people of color specifically excluded any "American Indian," but it placed the burden of proof on "such person of color," implying that even if native peoples were exempt from this race law, they were subject to others. Moreover, furnishing proof of Indian identity that satisfied white judges and juries was not always easy. In viewing their indigenous neighbors, southern politicians obsessively distinguished between "real Indians" who were "indolent and inefficient" and "hybrid offspring" whose that of our own citizens." The "aristocratical half breeds" who made up the second group were difficult to characterize, for they were a "mongrel breed of people,...

neither of the white man nor the Cherokee." Some indigenous peoples agreed. John Ross, wrote two of his Cherokee political opponents, was "nearly a white man in color and feelings." Under state law, was Ross an "American Indian" and a person of color? If not, did he enjoy the rights and privileges of white southerners? Even "real Indians" could be difficult to identify, especially when they possessed African ancestry. Lewis Ross, John's brother, described one "Catawba" family living in the Cherokee Nation as belonging to a "motley crew" of "mongrels." He later crossed out

"Catawba" and replaced it with "negro.™ The occupation of indigenous nations by slave states therefore threatened to reduce native peoples to a condition of servitude. For good reason, the Chickasaws were terrified of losing their "native freedom." In the context of the law forbidding Creeks from entering Georgia, Tuskeneah complained that when they crossed into the state to retrieve prop-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saunt, Claudio. *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Claudio Saunt, *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory* (W. W. Norton, 2020), 94–95.

Shortened citation:

Saunt, *Unworthy Republic*, 94–95.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.14

The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class

David R. Roediger

SELECTION	IITE SLAVES, WAGE SLAVES AND FREE \VHITE LABOR
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 87–88 · Supplied edition: Verso, 1991.

Excerpt

The defense of free white labor, around which the Republican party gained ground in the 1850s and to which opposing parties also sought to appeal, succeeded among white workers because it better appealed to the values of herrenvolk republicanism than did either the languages of white slavery or of abolitionism. It did not ask white workers to consider them selves slaves nor devote themselves to slaves. But a broader similarity among the various languages of labor should also be noted. All of the three approaches liquidated the question of hireling labor. The aboli tionist and free labor analyses tended to regard the wage bargain as freely arrived at, and perhaps temporary. The white slavery position had to force the comparison it sought to make through hyperbole by chronicling the ill-treatment of white workers and often retreated from its criticisms at the first sign of liberalization.

All this suggests that David Brion Davis's provocative ideas concerning antislavery and the acceptance of wage labor need to be pushed further still. Davis has argued that attacks on chattel slavery made 'free labor' (that is, wage labor) more easily acceptable during the first half of the nineteenth century. But in looking at US working class history, it is clear that the existence of slavery, not just of antislavery, stalled the develop ment of a telling critique of hireling labor - a critique that might have built on and transcended the republican heritage. It was not just the abolitionists and Republicans who failed to produce such a critique. Also failing were the often proslavery laborites who argued that workers were white slaves. As long as slavery thrived, any attempt to come to grips with wage labor tended to lapse into exaggerated metaphors or frantic denials of those metaphors. Only with Black emancipation could a more straightforward critique of wage slavery, and a fierce battle over the mean ing of free labor, develop. By that time, the importance of a sense of white ness to the white US worker was a long-established fact, not only politically but culturally as well.Ill Notes

The Chartists, London 1984, 226 and passim; Alfred Plummer, Bronterre: A Political Biography ofBronterre O'Brien, 1 804-1 864, London 197 1, 194-97; Gareth Stedman Jones, Languages of Class: Studies in English Working Class History, 1 832-1 982, Cambridge 1983, 146.

Author's Notes

9. Bernard Mandel, Labor: Free and Slave: Workingmen and the Antislavery Movement in the United States, New York 1955, 64.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Roediger, David R. *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class*. London: Verso, 1991.

Footnote citation:

David R. Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class* (Verso, 1991), 87–88.

Shortened citation:

Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness*, 87–88.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.15

Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers

Graham Russell Gao Hodges

SELECTION	HAPTER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 38–39 · Supplied edition: Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998.

Excerpt

Swedish botanist Pehr Kalm noted very strong resistance to black catechism among the Bergen Dutch.?? Undergirding this culture was the power of Dutch women. Under the Duke of York's laws of 1664, the Dutch had the right to retain inheritance customs that differed sharply from English codes of primogeniture. According to Dutch custom, widows received the vast bulk of their deceased husbands' property, even if only to hold it in trust for the next generation, a practice that allowed mothers to wield power over their sons and daughters. In 75 percent of 138 wills probated in Bergen County between 1690 and 1775, the wife inherited slaves. Compare this to the 52 percent allotment of slaves to widows in English-dominated Middlesex County, and the ability of Dutch women to influence the course of slavery is apparent. Dutch women, as the guardians of culture, were likely to prefer the Dutch language to English, to hold Calvinist tenets dear, and to maintain their the households as sanctuaries for Dutch culture.

For slaves, this meant that the Dutch wife could be even more fearsome in her beliefs about baptism and liberty than her husband, and she was just as likely to be their master.? Hints of concern about the gender of many slave owners came in the first full law of slavery in New Jersey. In 1704, New Jersey's legislature created a code noir when it passed "An Act for Regulating Negro, Indian and Mallato Slaves." Two years later, New York enacted similar legislation. The first few clauses reasserted bans on sales to slaves and made attempts to curtail stray blacks by offering rewards to any white "so taking [up slaves] and carrying them to be whipped." Black theft was now threatening enough that slaves convicted of theft were branded "on the most visible part of the left cheek near the nose, with the Letter (T) by the constable." Most controversial was the clause in the New Jersey law that required that black rapists or even fornicators with white women be "castrated at the care and Charge of his Master or Mistress." The Privy Council in London quickly disallowed the law.

Despite this negation, New Jersey's citizens, including farmers in Bergen, had come to regard blacks as permanent chattel, without religious sanction or economic incentive for manumission. Any black male who crossed the sexual frontier could expect the most brutal repression.[24] Having fully embraced slavery as a source of labor, Bergen County overcame its slow growth in the seventeenth century to prosper in the next era. Bergen County's white and black populations grew rapidly in the early eighteenth century. New Jersey's first census, in 1726, enumerated 2,673 people in Bergen, of whom 492 (18. percent) were black. By the next census, in 1738, the black population had grown at a faster rate than the white population, rising by over 60 percent to 806 (19. percent of the total). When Bergen County was partially split to make new counties in the 1740s, its black populace dipped to 616, but actually increased its overall proportion of the whole society to 20. percent As was common in rural societies in the Mid-Atlantic, black males predominated over black females.

In 1738, for example, there were 443 black males to 363 black females, a ratio of 122:100, high above the norm of 105:100. What factors promoted the rapid growth of the black population? The answer lies between natural reproduction and the slave trade. Peter Kolchin, in his survey, American Slavery, contends that the growth of an American-born class of slave owners and, significantly, a new generation of locally born African-American slaves shaped the contours of the evolution of slavery in the decades before the American Revolution. One key requisite for the emergence of a native-born generation of slaves was a more favorable ratio of men to women."° As noted above, as late as 1738, the male population of Bergen was still substantially higher than the female, hampering natural population growth. The number of women and children in the probate inventories of Bergen County slave holders between 1690 and 1775 averaged 38 women and 58 children, or only 1. children for each adult female under the best

conditions. Such data suggest the difficulty of black family formation in Bergen County.
Hard evidence about the involvement of Bergen County masters in the slave trade is sketchy. Arent Schuyler, the local mine owner, was very active in the burgeoning New York slave trade in the 1730s. Prices for a healthy adult male slave stabilized around £40 during this decade. Bergen County masters, who were notoriously reluctant to partake of the commerce in convicts and indentured servants, undoubtedly were encouraged by lower prices to turn increasingly to the slave trade for labor. One hard fact that survives is the ratio of slaves to free white male laborers in the county at the middle of the eighteenth century. In the tax assessments of 1751, surveyors counted 306 slaves against only 8 single white males; in 1769, the ratio was 422 slaves and servants as compared to 34 single males. Dutch farmers seeking

Author's Notes

24. John Griscom, The Sanitary Condition of the Laboring Population of New York with Suggestions for Its Improvement (New York, 1845), 18. For an accounting of the dismal statistics of Irish and black lives see Leonard Curry, The Free Black in Urban America, 1800-1850 (Chicago, 1981), 40-41, 53-54, 7: 3, 79.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hodges, Graham Russell Gao. *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers*. Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Graham Russell Gao Hodges, *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers* (Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998), 38–39.

Shortened citation:

Hodges, *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers*, 38–39.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.16

Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction

Kate Masur

SELECTION	The Liberty Party and Repeal of the Ohio Black Laws in the 1840s
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton & Company, 2021.

Excerpt

Neither Black activists nor, increasingly, women activists were willing to settle for this understanding of the franchise. Black and white women had become increasingly involved in public life in the 1820s and 1830s, working on a variety of causes including abolitionism, poor relief, prison reform, temperance, and protection for Native Americans. By the mid-1840s, women activists increasingly attacked sex-based inequality in public policy. They made some progress in persuading state legislatures to repeal married women's property laws—laws that required women to forfeit control over their property to their husbands when they married. Some went so far as to insist that women should be permitted to vote on the same terms as men, a radical idea that challenged conventional ideas about gender and dependency. In the early republic, New Jersey had been the only state to allow women to vote. Still, a group of New York women petitioned the 1846 state constitutional convention for the right to vote, and activist women went on to intensify their demands for the vote through conventions and petition drives in the East and the Old Northwest. Women's enfranchisement was not broadly popular, however, and activists had little success persuading state legislatures or constitutional conventions to take them seriously. They could not overcome contemporaries' commitment to patriarchy and the view that men and women were naturally suited to distinct roles.

By contrast, advocates of Black men's right to vote were working against a strong tide of disenfranchisement. At the nation's founding, Black men had been able to vote in most states. Over time, however, states moved to make voting a prerogative of white men only. Among those that entered the Union after 1800, only Maine permitted African American men to vote. Meanwhile, older states increasingly restricted Black men's right to vote or disenfranchised them entirely, even as they extended the vote to poor and propertyless white men who had previously been excluded. In its 1821 constitution, New York imposed a special property requirement on Black men, and Pennsylvania disenfranchised Black men in its new constitution in 1838. During these decades, it became clear that previous justifications for excluding large swaths of citizens from the vote—that only those who were economically independent or truly vested in the community were entitled to the privilege—were no longer valid. The vote had become associated with the static, inborn traits of whiteness and maleness. Black activists fought race-based disenfranchisement and pointed out its injustice. In 1841, responding to years of organized pressure by Black New Yorkers, Governor William Seward, a Whig, denounced the property requirement for Black men as "arbitrary" and "incongruous with all our institutions." He continued to advocate Black men's full enfranchisement, arguing after he left office that Black votes would help the antislavery movement. "Give them this right," he wrote to Salmon Chase in 1845, "and their influence will be immediately felt in the national councils, and it is needless to say will be cast in favor of those who uphold the cause of human liberty."

The states of the Old Northwest were among those that had come into the Union after 1800 and had never permitted Black men to vote. Their state constitutions contained declarations of universal basic rights but limited the vote to white male "inhabitants" or "citizens." It was not always clear who belonged in these categories. In some Ohio locales, authorities permitted voting by white noncitizens who were long-term residents of the community. Moreover, two Ohio Supreme Court decisions in 1842 recognized the right to vote of a limited number of men of color. The court had previously held that, in the matter of giving testimony in court, persons who were more than onehalf white

should be accorded the privileges of white people. Ohioans of racially mixed background pressed the court to apply the same principle to voting, and the court obliged in two decisions—one concerning a person of mixed Black and white background, and the other a person whose mixture included Native American ancestry. In both cases, the court found that because mixed-race people who were deemed more than one-half white were viewed as white for legal purposes, they should also be treated as white for purposes of voting. As a result of the decisions, some mixed-race people could and did vote in Ohio elections.

Still, the constitutional barriers to voting for most African Americans remained in place in Ohio and elsewhere. An Ohio Black convention in 1844 called the state constitution's restriction of the vote to white men "the only dark spot upon that otherwise truly republican document." The convention claimed that the white population had grown more enlightened over time and insisted that white Ohioans now remove the offending clause. The next year, speaking to a gathering at Cincinnati's African Union Baptist Church, Salmon Chase agreed that when the state next revised its constitution, the "anti-suffrage restriction" should be erased. "True Democracy," he argued, "makes no enquiry about the color of the skin, or the place of nativity, or any other similar circumstance of condition."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Masur, Kate. *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Kate Masur, *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction* (W. W. Norton & Company, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Masur, *Until Justice Be Done*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.17

Andrew Jackson, Southerner

Mark R. Cheathem

SELECTION	"We Will Destroy Our Enemies"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 65–66 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

killing them." Most of the approximately 350 Creek women and children survived, but an estimated 850 Creek warriors were cut down. The dead and wounded among Jackson's combined forces of Tennesseans and Creek Indian allies numbered only 45 dead and 146 wounded." This defeat at Horseshoe Bend broke the Red Sticks's resistance in Alabama. Approximately 1,000 of them moved to Pensacola in Spanish Florida seeking refuge with the Seminole, a part of the Creek confederation. As for Jackson, the battle earned him a promotion to major general in the United States Army and appointment as commander of the Seventh Military District, which included Tennessee and the Mississippi Territory, comprising the modern states of Alabama and Mississippi. Already angry with the Red Sticks, Jackson became incensed when the British began supplying and training them and their black and Seminole allies in western Florida. In August 1814 Jackson demanded that Creek representatives meet him at Fort Jackson, located at the confluence of the Coosa and Tallapoosa Rivers in central Alabama. He wanted to punish the Creek—all of them—and take their land. He succeeded.

As he told the Creek: "You have followed the counsel of bad men, and made war on a part of your own nation and the United States. This war has cost the United States a large sum. You must yield as much of your land as will pay this sum. But it must be taken from your whole nation, in such a manner as to destroy the communication with our enemies every where." Ignoring the protests of Creek chiefs, Jackson stated forcefully: "We will run a line between our friends and our enemies... We will destroy our enemies because we love our friends & ourselves. The safety of the United States and your nation requires, that enemies must be seperated from Friends." The Indian representatives finally conceded the inevitable; thirty-five friendly chiefs and one Red Stick chief signed the Treaty of Fort Jackson on 9 August 1814. It ceded almost twenty-two million acres of land to the United States, covering nearly half of Alabama and a significant portion of southwest Georgia.

The Native Americans also gave Jackson, Creek agent Benjamin Hawkins, and two interpreters land in the cession "as a token of gratitude." It is unclear whether these land grants were true gifts, desperate bribes, or sarcastic gestures; regardless, Congress refused to allow them." Jackson's trouble with the Creek Indians was not over, however. Colonel Edward Nicolls, a British officer with abolitionist sentiments, organized the Creek—as well as the Seminole, free blacks, and runaway slaves in the Pensacola area—into a fighting force. Fearing a pending military of fensive, Jackson sought authorization to seize the Spanish town. Secretary of War Armstrong's reply was inexplicably delayed until January 1815 and was vague in its wording: "The case you put is a very strong one & if all the circumstances stated by you unite, the conclusion is inevitable. It becomes our duty to carry our arms where we find our enemies." On September 11 the feared British offensive began. A British-led force attacked the American stronghold at Fort Bowyer, located at the opening of Mobile Bay.

Not yet having received Jackson's report on the Fort Bowyer attack and more concerned with an anticipated British move against New Orleans, the new secretary of war, James Monroe, ordered Jackson to "take no measures" that would engage the United States in any war with Spain. Jackson, however, failed to receive Monroe's orders in time to stop his intended invasion. Without authorization his men surrounded Pensacola on November 7, forcing its surrender. Receiving news that the British were indeed preparing soldiers and sailors for an attack on New Orleans, Jackson retreated toward Mobile, then moved to the Crescent City." At New Orleans, Jackson scored the victory that would win him national notoriety. Arriving on December 1, he assessed the city's defenses. Earlier he had agreed with the suggestion of the territorial governor, William C. C. Claiborne, that free black men be given the right to defend New Orleans.

"They must be either for, or against us," he wrote Claiborne, "distrust them, and you make them your enemies, place confidence in them, and you engage them by Every dear and honorable tie to the interest of the country who extends to them equal rights and priviledges with white men." To the free blacks of New Orleans he announced: "As Americans, your Country looks with confidence to her adopted Children, for a valorous support, as a partial return for the advantages enjoyed, under her mild and equitable government." If they fought, Jackson continued, they would also receive "the same bounty in Money and lands" as the white soldiers. This statement hardly eased the fears of some prominent white citizens, who "anticipate[d] much evil" from the city's "mix'd population." Jackson stood firm, no doubt trying to counter British efforts to recruit (and encourage) runaway slaves. After some hesitation Jackson also agreed to allow pirates, led by Jean Lafitte, to join his forces. A brief

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cheathem, Mark R. *Andrew Jackson, Southerner*. Southern Biography Series. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Mark R. Cheathem, *Andrew Jackson, Southerner* (Louisiana State University Press, 2013), 65–66.

Shortened citation:

Cheathem, *Andrew Jackson, Southerner*, 65–66.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.18

Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America

Padraig Riley

SELECTION	hapter 2. Philadelphia, Crossroads of Democracy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 70–71 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

How to reconcile the two Branagans? One was an idiosyncratic antislavery radical; the other, in many ways, was in the vanguard of northern racism. One Branagan argued for human equality and formed ties to men like James Forten; the other claimed that free black men were merely "up-start gentlemen" on the lookout for white wives. Such men contributed nothing to the United States; their race and their history of enslavement, not their standing or character, determined whether they could belong to the American polity.[40]

In the work of historian Gary Nash, Branagan reflects the rise of racism in Pennsylvania. Throughout the early national period, many whites who had once opposed slavery embraced racial exclusion. In Philadelphia, this played out in the most practical of ways, as whites forcibly excluded blacks from July Fourth celebrations in the city, enacting the racial limits of their vision of democracy. In 1813, a Jeffersonian Republican named Jacob Mitchell proposed legislation in the Pennsylvania state legislature that would both bar all black in-migration and compel all current black residents to carry a certificate proving their free status. Philadelphia petitioners also demanded that in case of certain crimes, black men and women should be indentured for a term of years to compensate their victims. James Forten fought to keep Mitchell's proposal from becoming law, appealing to white Pennsylvanians to honor the universalism of the founding principles of the United States and their own state, and protect equality before the law for all citizens, black and white. Mitchell's bill did not pass, but in many ways the tide was turning against Forten. In the early 1820s, Philadelphia Federalist Samuel Breck was liberal enough to meet Forten in the street and shake his hand ("knowing his respectability," said Breck, though he mistook his name); Forten informed Breck that he had brought fifteen of his white journeymen to the polls to vote for Breck in a recent congressional election. Yet Forten himself did not vote, as Breck noted that black citizens "never presume to approach the hustings" at election time, since they were kept from the polls—as well as juries and militia musters—by "custom, prejudice or design." These informal practices foreshadowed later attempts to formally exclude African Americans from the franchise and define full political citizenship as the exclusive prerogative of white men.[41]

Thomas Branagan experienced this democratic culture in formation, and did not appear to question it: in his mind, embracing democracy in Philadelphia entailed embracing racism. He intended Serious Remonstrances to be a popular work, written for the "the honest farmer and industrious mechanic"; the essay was filled with denunciations of the idle rich in the North and the slaveholding elite in the South. He adopted a Paineite vision of the United States, but one now deeply modified by race: "America," he believed, "was appropriated by the Lord of the universe to be an asylum for the oppressed, the injured sons of Europe." Maintaining that vision required colonization of free blacks, lest the "injured sons of Europe," on arrival in the United States, be compelled "to associate with negroes, take them for companions, and what is much worse, be thrown out of work and precluded from getting employ to keep vacancies for blacks."[42] In other words, American citizenship was meant for white men.

Historians of whiteness have argued that white supremacy enabled immigrants in the antebellum period, especially the Irish, to separate themselves from slaves and free blacks and claim belonging as Americans in the face of nativist xenophobia. White supremacy also helped secure the consent of nonslaveholders to the coercive power that masters wielded over enslaved people.[43] Focusing primarily on Jacksonian democracy, accounts of whiteness have underscored the prevalence of race and racial exclusion in American political culture. But such accounts do not fully capture the political and ideological transactions that led democratic radicals like William Duane and Thomas

Branagan to embrace slaveholders as political allies in the early national period. Transnational republicans arriving in the United States found that they had to "associate," not only with black men and women, but with slaveholders, who were a dominant presence in the early Republican coalition. Immigrant radicals did not immediately condone political alliance with slaveholders on the terms of white supremacy. Instead, they recast universal democratic principles in terms of American nationalism and partisan politics. Doing so entailed some toleration of slaveholder power, especially for immigrants who became significant members of the Jeffersonian coalition. That political encounter with slavery ultimately rendered democratic radicalism more amenable to white supremacy, as repeated accommodation of coercive power impaired egalitarian commitments.

Author's Notes

40. Branagan, Serious Remonstrances, 70–71.

41. Nash, Forging Freedom, 177–82; Gary Nash, The Forgotten Fifth: African Americans in the Age of Revolution (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 2006), 141–42; Nash, "Race and Citizenship in the Early Republic," in Antislavery and Abolition in Philadelphia: Emancipation and the Long Struggle for Racial Justice in the City of Brotherly Love, ed. Richard Newman and James Mueller (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2011), 90–117; Julie Winch, A Gentleman of Color: The Life of James Forten (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003), 169–74; James Forten, "Letters From a Man of Colour," in Early American Abolitionists: A Collection of 298 order to vote. Presumably, this new law may have required some African Americans to obtain yet another certificate in order to prove free status. See Olbrich, Negro Suffrage, 30; Laws of the State of New York, Passed at the Thirty-Fourth Session of the Legislature... (New York: S. Southwick, 1811), 370–74; Laws of the State of New York, Passed at the Thirty-Seventh Session of the Legislature (New York: H.C. Southwick, 1814), 94–95. Examples of these certificates of freedom can be found in "BV-New York City Indentures," Box 2, NYHS.

42. Branagan, Serious Remonstrances, 79.

43. Key works on whiteness include Alexander Saxton, The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth Century America (London: Verso, 1990); David Roediger, The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class (London: Verso, 1991); Noel Ignatiev, How the Irish Became White (New York: Routledge, 1995); Theodore Allen, The Invention of the White Race (London: Verso, 1994); Matthew Frye Jacobson, Whiteness of a Different Color: European Immigrants and the Alchemy of Race (Cambridge, Mass.: Harvard University Press, 1998). For two critical reviews, see Eric Arnesen, "Whiteness and the Historians' Imagination," International Labor and Working-Class History 60 (Fall 2001): 3–32 and Peter Kolchin, "Whiteness Studies: The New History of Race in America," JAH 89, 1 (June 2002): 154–73.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Riley, Padraig. *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Padraig Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 70–71.

Shortened citation:

Riley, *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience*, 70–71.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.19

Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom

Tiya Miles

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of California Press, 2005.

Excerpt

Cherokee republic of the 1820s. The leaders of the young government sought to preserve Cherokee independence in part by legislating a fixed and subordinate status for blacks. And Cherokee lawmakers solidified the identity of their republic through the definition and regulation of racial categories. Through the benefit of slave labor, Cherokees could grow surplus crops to increase their wealth and display their participation in the market economy—both viewed as "civilized" endeavors by American o‹cials. Furthermore, by excluding and systematically enslaving blacks, Cherokees could demonstrate the distance between them and this lowly race, thereby exhibiting their unique standing as a civilized tribe and proving their right to be viewed as a sovereign nation. In some ways, this bid for legitimacy worked, since federal Indian agents and white northern reformers proclaimed the Cherokees the most civilized of Indians. In 1859 Indian Agent George Butler linked Cherokee "progress" to slavery: "I am clearly of the opinion that the rapid advancement of the Cherokees is owing in part to the fact of their being slaveholders, which has operated as an incentive to all industrial pursuits, and I believe if every family of the wild roving tribes of Indians were to own a negro man and woman... it would tend more to civilize them than any plan that could be adopted." As Butler's statement illustrates, the process of becoming more civilized in the eyes of white federal o‹cials depended on Indians adopting practices of American barbarity, namely, slavery and racism. The Cherokee Constitution of 1827 encapsulated this irony. At the same time that Cherokee leaders created the charter for their new republic in this document, they also defined "blackness" as a racial category and excluded and controlled black and mixed-race Afro-Cherokee people. Cherokee lawmakers, like U.S. statesmen, were defining a nation with particular and exclusionary racial parameters.

The primary purpose of the new Cherokee republic and its constitution was to proclaim and maintain Cherokee sovereignty. This goal is evidenced in the first of six constitutional articles, which lays out the physical boundaries of the nation and declares the Cherokee government's "Sovereignty and Jurisdiction" over that land. Article II divides the new government into legislative, executive, and judicial branches. After first determining the fixed boundaries of the Cherokee nation-state in Article I, the constitution describes a specified people who may legitimately occupy those boundaries as citizens of the nation in Article III. It is in this third article that the state's o‹cial position on black people emerges. Article III, Section 4 reads: "The descendants of Cherokee men by all free women, except the African race, whose parents may have been living together as man and wife, according to the customs and laws of this nation, shall be entitled to all the rights and privileges of this Nation, as well as the posterity of Cherokee women by all free men.

No person who is of negro or mulatto parentage, either by the father or the mother side, shall be eligible to hold any o‹ce of profit, honor or trust under this government." This section states that Cherokee citizenship accrues to two categories of people: children and descendants of Cherokee men and nonblack free women, as well as children and descendants of Cherokee women and all free men. This definition of the Cherokee citizenry e^{a}ectively disqualifies all black women, slave or free, from being able to produce legally legitimate Cherokee children. It also disqualifies most black men from being able to produce legally legitimate Cherokee children, since few free black men resided in Cherokee territory after the passage of an act to expel free blacks in 1824. The inclusion of this narrow possibility for black men and Cherokee women to produce Cherokee citizens accords with persistent cultural beliefs in matrilineality and the notion that Cherokee women create Cherokee children.

However, as the concluding sentence of the section indicates, no black or mixedrace Afro-Cherokee person, regardless of matrilineal descent, would be entitled to run for political o‹ce, to serve on the General Council, or to hold any government position such as judge, sheri[a], or editor of the national newspaper. The language of this stipulation—that no "negro or mulatto" may be entrusted with "o‹ce[s] of profit, honor or trust" not only relegates Afro-Cherokees to a "form of second-class citizenship," as literary scholar Karen Woods has observed, but it also impugns the integrity and abilities of all people of African descent. Article III, Section 7 of the constitution further codifies black exclusion by granting su[a]rage only to "free male citizens" and by including the parenthetical note "excepting negroes and descendants of white and Indian men by negro women who may have been set free." Freed male slaves, even those of Cherokee descent on their father's side, would not be eligible to vote. And no woman—Cherokee, Afro-Cherokee, black, or white—would have voting rights under this new government.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Miles, Tiya. *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom*. 2nd ed. Oakland: University of California Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Tiya Miles, *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom* (University of California Press, 2005), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Miles, *Ties That Bind*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.20

Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War

Bray Hammond

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 348–349 · Supplied edition: Princeton University Press, 1957.

Excerpt

"Andrew Jackson was on the side of the capitalists," writes Mr Marquis James of his earlier career. "His first case in Nashville in 1788 had landed him as champion of the creditors against the debtors. Jackson desired wealth." He had been opposed to western relief measures taken on behalf of debtors in the ten years preceding his election to the Presidency. They were wicked, pernicious, profligate, and unconstitutional. Opinions like this put him logically on the side of the Bank of the United States, which was the pivotal creditor, and opposed him to the banks made of paper, such as the Bank of the Commonwealth of Kentucky, over which his kitchen adviser, Francis Preston Blair, had presided. But solecisms embarrassed the General very little. On the frontier more than elsewhere, the modification of an agrarian economy into an industrial and financial one was such, in William Lyon Mackenzie's words, as to "make speculation as extensive as life, and transform a Jeffersonian democracy into a nation of gamesters and our land into one great gaming house where all are forced to play, while but few can understand the game."

General Jackson's prejudices were stronger than his convictions, and he was himself among the least consistent and stable of the J acksonians. "Not only was Jackson not a consistent politician," says Professor Thomas P. Abernethy, "he was not even a real leader of democracy. He had no part whatever in the promotion of the liberal movement which was progressing in his own sWe.... He was a self-made man... he always believed in making the public serve the ends of the politician. Democracy was good talk with which to win the favor of the people and thereby accomplish ulterior objectives. Jackson never really championed the cause of the people; he only invited them to champion his. He was not consciously hypocritical in this. It was merely the usual way of doing business in these primitive and ingenuous times." Of his election to the Presidency Professor Richard Hofstadter writcs that it was not "a mandate for economic reform; no financial changes, no crusades against the national Bank, were promised....

Up to the time of his inauguration Jackson had contributed neither a thought nor a deed to the democratic movement, and he was elected without a platform.""

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, Bray. *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1957.

Footnote citation:

Bray Hammond, *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War* (Princeton University Press, 1957), 348–349.

Shortened citation:

Hammond, *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War*, 348–349.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.21

The Political Culture of the American Whigs

Daniel Walker Howe

SELECTION	hapter Two :
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 36–37 · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 1979.

Excerpt

The object of Whig didacticism was.redemption:. to make people better. One of the greatest Whig reformers explained it this way: “1 look for the harmonizing of Desire with Duty, not through the blotting out of the latter, but through the chastening, renovating, and purifying of the former.” If people were made to want to be good, there would be nothing to fear from their freedom.** The Democrats, by contrast, wanted liberation: to ecttid of veri see sion, at least as far as white men were concerned. The reactions of the two parties to the extinction of the national debt during Jackson's of typify these orientations. The Democrats welcomed the chance to liberate people from the burden of taxation. The Whigs favored redeeming the people by retaining the taxes and spending the money on worthwhile improvements; a society that did not respond positively to such an opportunity for collective selfimprovement would become “a community of self-degradation,”’ warned John Quincy Adams.*°

The recurrent controversies over public education in antebellum yr | America displayed the contrasting value systems of the Whigs and ee Democrats. Whigs correctly perceived that the diversified, capitalis- Ks vn | tic social order they wanted required a population that was literate,

| ambitious, and disciplined. The public-school systems they or-

|| ganized and supported. throughout 6:01 Sig Ea dee a ends.” The public schools represented a massive institutionalization of the Whig dedication to redeeming people. Horace Mann, the greatest educational reformer of the day, was a Whig and employed the vocabulary eRe iy aaa in expounding his objectives. He urged that children be taught to cultivate their higher faculties and to subordinate their passions. A believer in uniformity and conscious planning, Mann wanted more ‘centralization in school systems.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Howe, Daniel Walker. *The Political Culture of the American Whigs*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Walker Howe, *The Political Culture of the American Whigs* (University of Chicago Press, 1979), 36–37.

Shortened citation:

Howe, *The Political Culture of the American Whigs*, 36–37.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.22

Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement

Edward Pessen

SELECTION	Social Philosophies and Beliefs
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 124–125 · Supplied edition: State University of New York Press, 1967.

Excerpt

Without exception the labor leaders regarded the American polit¬ ical system as a hoax, and the turbulent party struggles of the era as full of much sound and fury, signifying little for workingmen.

They further argued that political rights were of minor signif¬ icance in the face of the domination of society by the rich. These views led Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr. to state that "George H. Evans, John Commerford, John Ferral, and the early labor leaders seemed to regard democracy as more protective doctrine than good in itself. In power they might have acted little differently—if toward different ends—from Daniel Webster and Nicholas Biddle." In my opinion, Mr. Schlesinger has misinterpreted the beliefs of the labor leaders. Far from being some species of Stalinist or authoritarian-leftist critics of "bourgeois democracy," or anything like it, these men were supporters of democracy, reserving their criticism for those men and practices which they believed abused and perverted it. With the pos¬ sible exception of Thomas Brothers, who returned to England after the Panic of 1837, convinced that democracy, fraud, and poverty were inevitably intertwined, they never lost their faith in self-gov¬ ernment, certainly not during that phase of their careers when they were active in the labor movement.

Clearly the social canvas the labor leaders painted was featured by glaring inequality, not only of condition, but of power, status, and opportunity. If they had had to give a title to their handiwork, it might have been: "America—the land of class conflict." For as they saw it, classes existed here, the lives and minds of their members separated by an unbridgeable gulf. Skidmore's entire theory rested on a premise which he convinced himself was a fact, that in society are "two distinct classes, proprietors and non-proprietors; those who own the world and those who own no part of it." The mild Evans not only believed that the interests of workers differed from those of other classes but that essentially society was a jungle in which the powerful preyed on the weak. His colleagues sounded variations on this theme. Simpson believed "there exists so great a separation in all the social duties and associations, as almost to constitute them [labor and capital] different species." Luther questioned the significance of political freedom in a society based on class distinctions. Fisk spoke bombastically of the war between the capitalist and the pro¬ ducer—though it is not always clear what he meant by the latter term. English, however, defines his terms clearly when he pontificates that "the war waged by capital against labour is co-existent with capital itself." By labor he means employers as well as journeymen, distinguishing both from merchant capitalists.

Some of the trade unionists detected, in addition to class conflict, an alleged attempt on the part of the rich and the capitalists to camouflage or to deny the existence of the struggle, on the one hand, or to blame labor agitators for its continuation, on the other. Both points are sharply made by Commerford. According to him, Ameri¬ can labor's attempt to improve its lot was met by the capitalists as follows: "Why, you ungrateful wretches, look at your fellows in other countries, and observe how miserably they fare, and then acknowledge our humanity; shut your turbulent mouths." In his view, precisely those men who charged reformers with stirring up class strife were the ones "straining every nerve to draw the cords of oppression and want to the greatest stretch of elasticity." They were simply "wily intriguers." Ferral asked the question, where idle rich live off the laboring poor, "who is there that can term such a mon¬ strous state of things, a community considered as one family?" Only those who profited from class conflict would deny its existence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Pessen, Edward. *Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement*. Albany: State University of New York Press, 1967.

Footnote citation:

Edward Pessen, *Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement* (State University of New York Press, 1967), 124–125.

Shortened citation:

Pessen, *Most Uncommon Jacksonians*, 124–125.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.23

Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Excerpt

Andrew Jackson's career was quite different. Though he too had dabbled in legislative politics, Jackson built his fame as a powerful general who triumphed over "savage" Indians and seasoned British veterans alike. While Clay was famous for negotiation and compromise, Jackson gave commands and backed them with force. While Clay was the ultimate Washington insider, Jackson posed as the outsider on horseback whose strong will and political independence gave him the moral authority to lead the nation. Jacksonians tended to think that Henry Clay could destroy the republic by giving in to corruption, while Clay supporters felt that Jackson could do the same thing by unleashing a military despotism. In short, each man's supporters thought him ideal for the presidency precisely because they saw him as radically different from his opponent.

Clay's and Jackson's disagreements over democracy and development were intimately connected to other American disputes, especially those connected with slavery and geographical expansion. Cotton grown by slaves was the most valuable export of the antebellum United States, and factories for spinning and weaving it were among the most important fruits of economic development. Growth of the textile industry led to geographical expansion, as southerners pressed for more lands suitable for growing cotton with slave labor. The pressure for more slave territory brought southerners into conflict with antislavery northerners and touched off furious conflicts that the political party system of Clay and Jackson could hardly mediate.

Slavery was obviously connected to the issue of race, and both were directly linked to the question of democracy. For centuries, white Americans had used the color of Africans as a badge of enslavement. By the beginning of the nineteenth century, they were also accustomed to regard blackness as a mark of moral and intellectual inferiority, as a justification for enslavement, and as an excuse for numerous other forms of racial discrimination. Most American states did not permit African American men to vote, for example, even when they were not slaves. Whites who demanded their own political rights often appeared to think that political equality was the most fitting barrier between black and white. In effect, democracy itself became an aspect of racial identity." The same set of issues had a deep impact on Native Americans. While whites did not usually enslave Indians in the nineteenth century, they included them in some of the same color prejudices they felt about Africans. The assumption that Indians could never share equal rights with white people encouraged white Americans to call for the seizure of Indian lands. Native Americans in the southern states owned excellent cotton territory through the 1830s, and the pressures of economic expansionism, racial inequality, and democratic (or demagogic) politics fed powerful popular demands for their expropriation. Andrew Jackson was the primary leader of this movement, and his campaign for Indian removal tied the movements for economic development, territorial expansion, racial discrimination, white democracy, and the spread of slavery tightly together.

With the partial exception of Indian removal, however, the questions of race and expansion were not central to the dispute between Andrew Jackson and Henry Clay. The two men clashed instead over tamer matters like taxes, public works, and above all, banking policy. Unlike slavery, these seemingly mundane questions were not too explosive to address in national political circles. Unlike geographical expansion and racial prejudice, they were controversial enough to create lasting political divisions.

In complex ways that I hope to explain in this book, they were also deeply important to antebellum white Americans. While the issues of slavery, racism, and conquest were also deeply important to these Americans, they did not form the cornerstone of contemporary debate because politicians worked hard to keep them at the margins of political discourse.

Eventually, particularly in the 1850s, the issues of Jacksonian debate were at least partially resolved, and the hidden questions of slavery and expansion pushed forward almost unavoidably. When they did so, the party structures created by men like Clay and Jackson collapsed, and civil war soon followed. The political creations of Clay and J ackson continued to be important in the crises over secession and war, however, because these structures had so long shaped the ways that Americans thought and acted about the matters most important to their public life.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America*. Boston: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America* (Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.24

Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	BERTY AND POWER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 168–169 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1990.

Excerpt

An all-metallic currency would help, since it would strip the banks of their power to control the economy as a whole by manipulating the value of paper money. Even more important, equality and majority rule would also operate in favor of liberty. "Never for a moment believe that the great body of the citizens... can deliberately intend to do wrong," Jackson declared. But in the end, nothing could stave off corruption but watchfulness and virtue. "'You must remember, my fellow citizens, that eternal vigilance by the people is the price of liberty." Unhappily, even this resource was vulnerable. Experience in the Presidency had shown Jackson that many Americans actually wanted the new society with its material benefits, even at the cost of deviations from what he regarded as the true republican faith. Ultimately, even the people were corruptible. "It is from within, among yourselves—from cupidity, from corruption, from disappointed ambition and inordinate thirst for power—that factions will be formed and liberty endangered."

At the pinnacle of republican success, it seemed, liberty was still in danger. Eight years under Andrew Jackson had not been enough to make it forever safe, for the spirit of corruption was unsleeping and the people themselves were the ultimate source of the threat. In his closing warning, Jackson suggested that even the people were fallible, that they must constantly be reminded of their duties and their destiny lest they forget their sacred trust. Jackson, did not say who would offer the necessary reminders in his absence, but he clearly hoped that the memory of his parting words would help. Beyond that, his other writings clearly indicated his hope that the Democratic Party might succeed where the people themselves could fail, in keeping alive the spirit of the old Republic.

Andrew Jackson thus ended his Presidency as he had begun it, on a note of ambiguity. But while he had entered the White House with an unspecified plan of "reform," he left it with a clear designation of the paths to salvation and destruction. To save itself, America must preserve the Constitution and a flexible but unbreakable Union based on equal tolerance for freedom and slavery. Rather than respond to Jefferson's firebell in the night, the Republic must grapple with other enemies, As of old, liberty was in danger from power, and virtue was prey to corruption. But the locus of concentrated power was not King George, it was "the great moneyed corporations," and the other agents of commerce, industry, and the international market economy. These were the sources of corruption that could overcome the Republic. Jackson had not succeeded in destroying these "monsters,"' but he promised a victory if every American citizen were treated with absolute equality. Elsewhere, he had called equality of legal rights "the great radical principle of freedom," and he insisted on its importance in all his major state papers. Equality would mean that the enemies of republican society could not obtain the help they needed from government and would therefore be doomed to perish.

As expressed in the Farewell Address and other major documents, Jackson's economic vision is open to a number of cogent objections. Jackson himself was a rich man, and some Jacksonians in state politics were closely connected to banks, transportation companies, and the other "monsters" that party orators denounced. From this perspective, Democratic slogans pitting the poor against the rich have a hollow ring. Jackson's favored panaceas also seem completely inadequate to his professed goals; in hindsight, the destruction of the B.U.S. and the promotion of hard currency look like very feeble weapons against the gathered forces of revolution in transportation, commerce, and industry. Even the withdrawal of ali "privileges," or government encouragement to economic development, seems insufficient to have staved off change for long. Even if we concede their sincerity, the Jacksonians' obsession with

monsters, conspiracies, and cure-all solutions seems so unrealistic that we are tempted to dismiss them as hopelessly neurotic or simple-minded. Finally, we who live in a world the Jacksonians fought to prevent may find it hard to believe that the battle was really worthwhile. "'You can't fight progress,"' we are inclined to say, and from our perspective, banks and internal improvements were indisputably progressive and much more compatible with true democracy than the slave plantation that Andrew Jackson owned and lived on.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America*. Updated ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America* (Hill and Wang, 1990), 168–169.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Liberty and Power*, 168–169.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.25

The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It

Richard Hofstadter

SELECTION	Andrew Jackson and the Rise of Liberal Capitalism 7
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1948.

Excerpt

President, a man of monumental rectitude but a career politician of the dying order par excellence, was hounded by the corrupt-bargain charge and subjected by the Jackson professionals to a skillful campaign of vilification, which culminated in the election of 1828. In Jackson's second presidential campaign the bank was hardly mentioned. The tariff was played for what it was worth where men cared especially about it; but a series of demagogic charges about Adams's alleged monarchist, aristocratic, and bureaucratic prejudices served the Jackson managers for issues. Jackson

The election of 1828 was not an uprising of the West against the East nor a triumph of the frontier: outside of New England and its colonized areas in the West, Federalist Delaware, New Jersey, and Maryland, Jackson swept the form; no financial changes, no crusades against the national bank, were promised. The main themes of Jacksonian democracy thus far were militant nationalism and equal accause of the rise of democracy, and the "revolution of 1828" more an overturn of personnel than of ideas or programs. Up to the time of his inauguration Jackson had contributed neither a thought nor a deed to the democratic movement, and he was elected without a platform. So far as he can be said to have had a popular mandate, it was to be different from what the people imagined Adams had been and to give expression to their unformulated wishes and aspirations. This mandate Jackson was prepared to obey. Democrat and aristocrat, failure and success, debtor and creditor, he had had a varied and uneven history, which made it possible for him to see public questions from more than one perspective. He was a simple, emotional, and unreflective man with supporters; he swung to the democratic camp when the democratic camp swung to him.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hofstadter, Richard. *The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1948.

Footnote citation:

Richard Hofstadter, *The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1948), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Hofstadter, *The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.26

Clashing over Commerce: A History of US Trade Policy

Douglas A. Irwin

SELECTION	hapter three
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 130–131 · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 2017.

Excerpt

The South resisted the effort to enact higher tariffs. Their representatives complained that the tariff increased the price of imported goods that the South consumed, reducing their standard of living. Furthermore, by reducing imports, higher tariffs would translate into lower foreign demand for exports, most of which came from the South. Therefore, high import tariffs would put a heavy economic burden on the South by reducing its exports and increasing the price of the imports it consumed. The mercurial John Randolph of Virginia denounced tariffs as an artifi cial way of promoting northern industry at the expense of southern agriculture. He suggested that the issue came down to this: whether you, as a planter will consent to be taxed, in order to hire another man to go to work in a shoemaker's shop, or to set up a spinning jenny. For my part I will not agree to it,... I will not agree to lay a duty on the cultivators of the soil to encourage exotic manufactures; because, after all, we should only get much worse things at a much higher price.... Why pay a man much more than the value for it, to work up our own cotton into clothing, when, by selling my raw material, I can get my clothing much better and cheaper from Dacca [India].... I am convinced that it would be impolitic, as well as unjust, to aggravate the burdens of the people for the purpose of favoring the manufacturers.[9]

But after the tumultuous experience of the past decade, even southern representatives could not oppose a moderately protective tariff. This acceptance did not refl ect any warm feelings for northern manufacturers, but arose from a strong sense of nationalism and concern for the country's defense. The lack of domestic supplies of important materiel had hampered the recent war effort. John Calhoun of South Carolina, later a fi erce tariff critic, supported the 1816 tariff bill because the issue of protection was "connected with the security of the country."[10] The House passed the bill in April 1816 by a vote of 88– 54. The Senate quickly followed, and Madison signed the measure later in the month. Most of New England's representatives voted in favor of the higher duties; with small cotton textile fi rms having sprouted up in the region, it was no longer dominated by merchant and shipping interests, as it had been a decade earlier. The Mid- Atlantic states, led by Pennsylvania, strongly supported the bill because many iron and glass producers were located there and faced competition from imports. The South was split but slightly more unfavorable to the legislation. It did not favor the higher tariffs as a general matter and had supported failed amendments to reduce the tariff on cotton and woolen manufactures to 20 percent. At the same time, anti- British sentiment was very strong in the South, and the fear of another war convinced members from the region that the protection of new manufacturers was necessary. These concerns about national defense were decisive in ensuring support for the tariff in the South, whose votes were critical for the legislation's passage. In a sign of the battles to come, however, representatives from the South also made clear their opposition to any additional protection to industry.[11]

The Tariff of 1816 was the fi rst "protectionist" tariff of the United States in the sense that it was mainly designed to provide assistance to domestic manufacturers facing foreign competition. Given Madison's opposition to Hamilton's Report on Manufactures in the 1790s, it is ironic that his administration helped institutionalize government support for manufacturing by imposing high duties on imports.[12] However, the federal government never had a conscious policy of starting "infant industries." Rather, those industries emerged as a by- product of the trade interruptions and then pressured Congress to protect them from foreign competition. The direction of causality is important: Congress did not deliberately create the infant industries through policy measures; the industries emerged and then compelled

Congress to enact higher tariffs for their benefi t. In other words, Congress was not farsighted in shaping the future path of the economy but simply reacted to the political pressures that it faced.

The period after the War of 1812 saw the emergence of two important sectors of the economy: cotton in the South and cotton textiles in the North. While cotton producers were dependent on exports, the cotton textile industry faced competition from imports. As a result, the two regions of the country developed strongly opposing interests with respect to trade. The coming battles over US trade policy would pit manufacturers in the North against agricultural exporters in the South for many decades to come.

Author's Notes

9. AC, 1/16/1816, 687.

10. AC, 4/4/1816, 1330.

11. On the South's support for the bill, see Preyer 1959.

12. In 1832, Madison wrote that he still believed in free trade "as a theoretic rule, and subject to exceptions only not inconsistent with the principle of it," but that "theories are the offspring of the closet; exceptions to them, the lessons of experience." LJM 4:259.

13. US Bureau of the Census 1975, series K- 554.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Irwin, Douglas A. *Clashing over Commerce: A History of US Trade Policy*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017.

Footnote citation:

Douglas A. Irwin, *Clashing over Commerce: A History of US Trade Policy* (University of Chicago Press, 2017), 130–131.

Shortened citation:

Irwin, *Clashing over Commerce*, 130–131.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.27

The Tariff History of the United States

F. W. Taussig

SELECTION	hapter III The Tariff, 1830-1860
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 103–104 · Supplied edition: Capricorn Books, 1964.

Excerpt

The Tariff, 1830–1860 ☐ 103 literature and so constantly repeated in many accounts of our economic history. This is especially the case with the curious assertion that the crises of 1837 and 1839 were caused by the compromise tariff of 1833, or connected with it. This asser tion had its origin in the writings of Henry C. Carey, who has been guilty of many curious versions of economic his tory, but of none more remarkable than this. It may be found in various passages in his works; and from them it has been transferred to the writings of his disciples and to the argu ments of protectionist authors and speakers in general. Yet no fair-minded person, having even a superficial knowledge of the economic history of these years, can entertain such notions. The crises of 1837 and 1839 were obviously due to quite a different set of causes—to the bank troubles, the financial mistakes of Jackson's administration, the inflation 104☐ Tariff History of the United States / Taussig of the currency, and to those general conditions of specula tion and unduly expanded credit which give rise to crises. The tariff act had nothing whatever to do with them. Indeed, the reductions in duty under it, as we have seen, were slight until 1840, and could hardly have influenced in any degree the breaking out of the panics. Even if the reductions of duty had been greater, and had been made earlier, they would probably have had no effect, favorable or unfavorable, on the inflation of the earlier years or on the depression which followed.

We may dispose at this point of a similar assertion occasionally made in regard to the crisis of 1857,—that the tariff act of 1857 caused or intensified it. This view also is traceable, probably, to Carey. It appears in his writings and in those of his disciples. In fact, the crisis of 1857 was an unusually simple case of activity, speculation, over-banking, panic, and depression; and it requires the exercise of great ingenuity to connect it in any way with the tariff act. As it happened, indeed, the tariff was passed with some hope that it would serve to prevent the crisis. Money was accumulating in the Treasury; and it was hoped that by reducing duties the revenue would be diminished, money would be got out of the Treasury, and the stringency, which was already threat ening, prevented. The reduction failed to prevent the panic; but, at the time, it would have been considered very odd to ascribe the disaster to the tariff act.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taussig, F. W. *The Tariff History of the United States*. 8th rev. ed. New York: Capricorn Books, 1964.

Footnote citation:

F. W. Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States* (Capricorn Books, 1964), 103–104.

Shortened citation:

Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States*, 103–104.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.28

The Tariff History of the United States

F. W. Taussig

SELECTION	The Tariff-1830-1860 • 109-154
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 117–118 · Supplied edition: 6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910.

Excerpt

Oddly enough, Calhoun ascribed the crisis of 1837 to the fact that duties under theactof 1833 remained too high. The high duties brought in a large revenue and caused a surplus in the Treasury; the deposit and distribution of this brought inflation and speculation, and eventually a crisis (" Works,"

IV., p. 174). No doubt the high duties were one cause of the government surplus, and thereby aided in bringing about the crisis, so that this view, incomplete as it is, has more foundation than Carey's explanation. On the other hand, Clay, as might be expected, took pains to deny that the act of

1833 had any thing to do with the troubles of the years following its passage (" Works, ” II., pp. 530, 531; edition of 1844). seen, were slight until 1840, and could hardly have influenced in anydegree the breaking out of the panics. Even if the reductions of duty had been greater, and had been made earlier, they would probably have had no effect, favorable or unfavorable, on the inflation of the earlier years or on the depression which followed.

We may dispose at this point of a similar assertion occasionally made in regard to the crisis of 1857, that the tariff act of 1857 caused or intensified it. This view also is traceable, probably, to Carey. It appears in his writings and in those of his disciples. In fact, the crisis of 1857 was an unusually simple case of activity, speculation, over-banking, panic, and depression; and it requires the exercise of great ingenuity to connect it in any way with the tariff act. As it happened, indeed, the tariff was passed with some hope that it would serve to prevent the crisis. Money was accumulating in the Treasury; and it was hoped that by reducing duties the revenue would be diminished, money would be got out of the Treasury, and the stringency, which was already threatening, prevented."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Taussig, F. W. *The Tariff History of the United States*. 6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910.

Footnote citation:

F. W. Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States* (6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910), 117–118.

Shortened citation:

Taussig, *The Tariff History of the United States*, 117–118.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.29

Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833

Merrill D. Peterson

SELECTION	Olive Branch and Sword
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 32–33 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

Turning back to the House, it was not until the end of May that the tariff debate began. McDuffie's bill was first disposed of. The congressman, himself a great cotton planter, again ar¬ gued that the tariff amounted to a 40 percent excise on the export of the southern staples, cotton, rice, and tobacco. If continued, the South must rapidly decline and, as the value of slave labor fell, face the disaster of abolition. This terror, and the terror of northern despotism with all the oppressions of the American System, would be lifted from the southern states if they were outside the Union. McDuffie solemnly con¬ cluded that unless Congress provided the remedy. South Car¬ olina, leading the way for her sister states, would nullify the tariff within five months of adjournment.5 Nathan Appleton, of Massachusetts, a great cotton manufacturer, replied to McDuffie in a brilliant maiden speech in which he was coached by Daniel Webster. Appleton argued learnedly that the tariff as perceived by South Carolina simply did not exist; she was preparing to risk disunion and civil war for "a mere figment of the brain."5 On his motion the House voted two to one to strike the enacting clause from McDuffie's bill.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peterson, Merrill D. *Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Merrill D. Peterson, *Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833* (Louisiana State University Press, 1982), 32–33.

Shortened citation:

Peterson, *Olive Branch and Sword*, 32–33.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.30

Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836

William W. Freehling

SELECTION	QUALIFIED NATIONALISM TO QUALIFIED SECTIONALISM
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 107–108 · Supplied edition: Harper & Row, 1966.

Excerpt

The Carolinians, as apostles of Adam Smith's view of economics, assumed that individuals, if left free to pursue their own selfinterest, would inevitably further the general interest. An "invisible hand" would direct capitalists to the investments most profitable for themselves and most beneficial to the economy. If them. If manufactories were unprofitable, governmental intervention could not salvage them. By protecting inefficient industries, the government prevented capitalists from seeking more advantageous investments and thereby slowed down the nation's economic growth.

they could ruin southern planters. An avowed purpose of protection was to prevent foreigners from underselling domestic manufacturers, forcing southerners to buy goods at propped-up prices. Other producers could at least hope that higher income would compensate for higher prices. Manufacturers, sugar planters, and lead miners could all expect higher incomes from their protected products. Laborers might be paid higher wages, and farmers selling food to urban dwellers might receive higher prices. But the domestic market, could not benefit from protection.

Indeed—and this was the crucial point—tariffs would inevitably destroy foreign demand for rice and cotton. Foreign governments might impose high tariffs on American exports in retaliation. Even and cotton from other lands if they could not sell their goods in American markets. England, in particular, would encourage

Brazil and Egypt to produce more bales of cotton. At best, Europeans would buy southern staples at lower prices. At worst, cotton and rice would find no foreign market at all. Bv 1824, with the threat of war receding and their state's economy depressed, most South Carolinians regarded these prospects with dismay. Upland cotton producers had already suffered through five years of deteriorating economic conditions, and the declining upcountry wagon trade had impoverished mechanics and retailers in Charleston. Meanwhile lowcountry luxury cotton planters had not yet discovered that they could escape the consequences of the upcountry cotton glut by adopting more sophisticated agricultural techniques. Producers throughout the state con-

South Carolina's opposition to the tariff of 1824 was tame compared to what would come later. Calhounites claimed that the new tariff would aggravate an already existing depression; no one blamed hard times on previous tariffs. Hamilton and Hayne both briefly claimed that protection was unconstitutional, but their argument seemed thrown in as an afterthought. And McDuffie would soon have cause to regret. If Congress passed the tariff, one of the laws of my country. I have endeavored, with zeal and never be found wanting in my duty as a citizen." South Carolinians bandwagon of General Andrew Jackson, who had supported the ment among planters who lived in the South Carolina lowcountry.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Freehling, William W. *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836*. New York: Harper & Row, 1966.

Footnote citation:

William W. Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836* (Harper & Row, 1966), 107–108.

Shortened citation:

Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War*, 107–108.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.31

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Th e third part, “Paternalism Rising,” chronicles the emergence of the paternalist movement from its humble late-eighteenth-century origins to become a potent insurgency in the lower South. Paternalism’s advocates faced twin challenges: they had to both persuade slaves to accept Christianity and convince whites that paternalism was an eff ective method of slave control. Th is part fi rst charts paternalism’s rise during the Second Great Awakening and its emergence initially in areas such as the Carolina and Georgia Lowcountry, which had a network of well-established churches. Th en it examines the actions of those lower South whites who countered that paternalism was not an eff ective means of slave control.

Part Four, “Paternalism in Crisis,” examines the most signifi cant challenge the paternalist movement faced during its insurgent phase: the Denmark Vesey insurrection scare and the white response to the scare. In a series of three chapters, this section describes the scare itself, examines the analysis of the plot by local whites, who laid much of the blame on the softness of paternalism as a method of slave control, and then explores the refusal of the South Carolina legislature to adopt many of the draconian control measures recommended by Charleston-area leaders in response to the Vesey scare. Lowcountry leaders then reacted to the legislature’s moderation with the formation of an aggressive voluntary organization, the South Carolina Association, charged with protecting the interests and safety of white Charlestonians. Th e association quickly emerged as the vanguard of proslavery radicalism in the lower South and a sworn enemy of the paternalist movement.

Part Five, “Words and Deeds,” charts the course of the colonization movement in the South during the □□□□s. Interest in colonization spiked across much of the region in the aftermath of the Vesey scare, both as a means of removing free blacks from the region and as a method for facilitating gradual emancipation. Th e part’s fi rst chapter presents the southern debate over colonization as three parallel discussions. One discussion centered on the disagreement within the upper South over whether colonization should be used to encourage gradual emancipation or simply as a means for reducing the region’s large free black population. A second discussion revolved around the dispute between the upper South and lower South over whether colonization was a legitimate means for eliminating some problems related to slavery or merely an abolitionist wedge designed to undermine slavery. Th e third was a debate between southern and northern colonizationists over the ultimate purpose and preferred pace of the movement. Th is part of the book then turns to an examination of the immediate reaction of upper South whites to the publication of David Walker’s Appeal and Nat Turner’s slave revolt in Virginia. Th e deep fear and persistent anxiety that the Turner insurrection aroused among upper South whites, and white Virginians especially, is discussed as background to a growing popular interest in accelerating the demographic reconfi guration of slavery in the region.

Part Six examines the upper South’s political and policy response to the Turner insurrection, including the epic and bitter Virginia legislative debate over gradual emancipation in □□□□–□□ as well as Tennessee’s equally spirited and more decisive debate on the same subject in □□□□. Th e section also analyzes how these post-Turner discussions of slavery and race led the upper South to embrace “whiteness” as both a justifi cation for the demographic reconfi guration of slavery and a guiding principle of civic life. Toward that end, this part analyzes how Tennessee’s decision to eliminate free black suff rage in □□□□ and North Carolina’s bitterly contested decision to disfranchise all free blacks at its □□□□ state constitutional convention both refl ected and enhanced the upper

South's interest in an ideological whitening of the region.

Th e book's fi nal part concludes the volume with three chapters on the fi nal challenges to paternalism and its eventual triumph as the dominant ideology of slaveholding in the lower South. Th is section evaluates the spread of alarm and anxiety across the lower South in the aftermath of the publication of Walker's pamphlet and news of Turner's revolt. In the face of such alarming news, the ongoing contest between paternalists and their critics initially intensifi ed. Th e paternalists maintained that only their approach could render slavery safe for the lower South, but the movement's opponents launched a fi erce off ensive, seeking to undermine the paternalist argument in light of open slave violence and aggressive abolitionist threats to slavery from outside the region. Initially, critics of paternalism succeeded in shifting the lower South's focus to the need for tighter control of slaves and free blacks. As a result, they won approval for measures banning the education of slaves and limiting the ability of paternalists to continue their mission to the region's slave population.

Th e section then details the broader southern reaction to the abolition mail and petition campaigns crafted by the American Anti-slavery Society. Spreading alarm and producing a call for unity and action, particularly in the lower South, the abolition mail campaign struck many whites in the South as nothing short of a terrorist attack on the region, and the mail and petition campaigns together left more white southerners than ever convinced that, at least on the point of abolition, the South had to meet its critics with one voice.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lacy K. Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.32

The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860

Leonard L. Richards

SELECTION	Bucktails into Doughfaces
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 121–122 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

Van Buren's skills as a political manipulator are legendary. The son of a Dutch tavern keeper of the tiny village of Kinderhook, he first gained attention as an accomplished lawyer. In this respect he was no different from many politicians of his day, except that his legal prowess was so widely respected that John Quincy Adams (hardly a political ally) later urged his appointment to the Supreme Court.[23] But it was not in court that Van Buren made his mark. Nor was it in the numerous political offices he held. Even though he pro¬ gressed up the political ladder, from state senator, to state attorney general, and later to United States senator, governor of New York, secretary of state, minister to England, vice president, and finally, president of the United States, his fame rested largely on his talent as a behind the scenes political operator.

To the public, observing him from a distance, Van Buren was anything but a charismatic leader. He lacked the command pres¬ ence, the overbearing personality, the colossal ego of DeWitt Clin¬ ton, once his chief rival in New York politics. His forte was political organization and political manipulation, and for that his opponents derisively labeled him a magician and a schemer, the American Talleyrand, and the Red Fox of Kinderhook. Behind him stood the Albany Regency, a group of like-minded men who for nearly thirty years sought to control political office in New York, rule the state party with an iron hand, and provide the Empire State with scrupu¬ lously honest government. Behind the Regency stood the "Bucktails," a well-disciplined political machine that sought to control the vote in every nook and cranny in the Northeast.

Van Buren and his followers, so the argument goes, became alarmed after the War of 1812 when the old Republican Party of Jefferson's heyday gradually fell apart. Especially divisive, as they saw it, was the debate over admitting Missouri as a slave state in 1819, and the attendant attacks against slavery, the three-fifths clause of the Constitution, and southern domination of the national govern¬ ment. These attacks, which were provoked mainly by James Tallmadge, John Taylor, and other New York politicians, convinced Van Buren that the collapse of Jeffersonian Republicanism might lead to antislavery political parties. Such a development would not only send shock waves through the nation, it would also destroy the working arrangement between the Van Burenites and the Virginia elite and rend New York's political fabric. To avoid such a possibility, Van Buren and his Virginia allies allegedly constructed a party that would fight the old battles of Jefferson's heyday once again, quiet the slavery issue, and protect the South's dominant position within the Union. Later, when the Little Magician became a presidential contender, he took further steps to placate the slave states to win southern votes.[24]

Author's Notes

23. Charles Warren, The Supreme Court in United States History, 2 vols. (Boston, 1926), 1, 591-4.

24. Cf. Brown, Missouri Crisis"; John M. McFaul, "Expediency vs. Morality: Jacksonian Politics and Slavery," Journal of American History 62 (June 1975): 24-39; George C. Rable, "Slavery, Politics, and the South: The Gag Rule As a Case Study," Capitol Studies 3 (Fall 1975): 69-87; and Howard Alexander Morrison, "Gentlemen of Proper Understanding: A Closer Look at Utica's Anti-Abolition Mob," New York History 61 (January 1981): 61-82.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Richards, Leonard L. *The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

Leonard L. Richards, *The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860* (Louisiana State University Press, 2000), 121–122.

Shortened citation:

Richards, *The Slave Power*, 121–122.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.33

The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	was the tendency of a northern-dominated federal government to inter
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2000.

Excerpt

Evans, J. R. Girardeau, J. S. Deas, and T. W. Glover organized protest meetings against the Woollens bill that were particularly solicitous of planter interests. Memorials from Barnwell, Kershaw, Edgefield, Fairfield, Orangeburg, Lancaster, Laurens, Marlborough, Newberry, Chesterfield, and St. Andrew's Parish to Congress in 1827 and 1828 testified to the unjust and unconstitutional nature of protective duties and called them a tax on planters' income. While many opposed the tariff, some leading planter politicians were also influenced by the proslavery and separatist logic of Cooper's and Turnbull's arguments. The Columbia memorial argued that "the benefit of the Union to this State is becoming more dubious and disputable," and the memorial from St. John's Colleton asked why should "the Southern Planter humbly kiss the rod which chastens him?" The Sumter meeting, led by Miller, future governor and nullifier, declared that neither the federal courts nor "the elective principle" could protect the rights of the slaveholding minority in this case. An antitariff gathering of St. Paul's Agricultural Society also warned that criticisms of slavery tended "to weaken the sacred tie which binds the states to the union."

However, the Charleston Chamber of Commerce memorial sounded a cautionary note about "the growth of a spirit of disaffection, that may come to regard the federal charter with alienated feelings."?º the local level as well as the official course of the state. The state senate, under the leadership of such future nullifiers as John Ramsay, Miller, and Seabrook, presented an antitariff report and resolutions that recommended that the state should approach the federal government as a "SOVEREIGN" to demand the repeal of tariff laws. Moreover, it dragged in the question of slavery, stating that there could "be no reasoning, between South Carolina and any other government" on this subject. Carolinian slaves should not be able to look to any source of authority other than the state government. The report concluded that not just the tariffs but any scheme for emancipation and colonization was unconstitutional. The importance of this first wave of sectional agitation was emphasized by an early historian of nullification, David Franklin Houston, who argued that the "principles that were fought for in the Civil War were formally enunciated in South Carolina" in the 1820s.7!

The joining of the questions of slavery and tariff in South Carolina prepared the ground for nullification.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina* (University of North Carolina Press, 2000), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Counterrevolution of Slavery*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.34

Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836

William W. Freehling

SELECTION	I THE EMERGENCE OF A THEORY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 161–162 · Supplied edition: Harper & Row, 1966.

Excerpt

of an unlimited government to command allegiance from its subjects. As Blackstone defined it, “there is and must be... a supreme, irresistible, absolute, uncontrolled authority, in which the rights of sovereignty reside.” Citizens owed unconditional obedience to edicts of their sovereign, and since by definition there could be only one sovereign, men owed absolute allegiance to one government.”

Absolute sovereignty in the Blackstonian sense obviously did not exist in America. Governmental power was divided among federal, state, and municipal authorities. Moreover, according to the Lockean formula, governments were limited to exercising the powers which the governed had delegated in the constitutional compact. But if the essence of Blackstonian sovereignty was lost, the word was retained. To the extent that an American government exercised any legitimate authority, it was said to be sovereign and its citizens were said to owe it allegiance. Americans were ruled by several sovereigns, and they owed allegiance to several governments.

The federal Constitution preserved both the social-contract theory and the changed definition of sovereignty. By restraining majorities to exercising those powers which the contracting parties had agreed to delegate, the Constitution helped maintain the principle of the consent of the governed. By defining the powers of the federal government and expressly reserving the remaining powers for the use of the states, the fundamental text helped safeguard the division of sovereign powers.

The doctrine of nullification could be derived from two different theories of the Constitution. One group of nullifiers based their case on the principle of divided sovereignty. They maintained that the state government, as a co-departinent in one unified governmental system, could check federal encroachments and preserve its own share of sovereignty. Other nullifiers based their argument on the principle that the governed are supreme 32] am simplifying again. Blackstone assumed that the sovereign had absolute practical power, but he maintained that it ought to observe moral restraints. For an excellent discussion of the Anglo-American conception of sovereignty, see Bernard Bailyn (ed.), Pamphlets of the American Revolution, 1750-1776 (4 vols. planned, 1 publ., Cambridge, Mass., 1965-), I, 115-38. over a constitution to which they consent. These nullifiers urged that a state convention, the contracting party which had originally ratified the Constitution, could veto federal laws which assumed power the people had never agreed to delegate. Calhoun’s decisive intellectual contribution was to seize the second, and by far the better, of the two alternatives and to buttress it with a clever reformulation of the American theory of sovereignty.

The co-department theorists maintained that balanced power necessarily implied mutual authority to check abuses. The Constitution made both the federal and state governments sovereign in their own sphere. Yet if one sovereign was given exclusive rights to judge what powers belonged to each, divided sovereignty would be an empty constitutional gesture. As Calhoun put it during his brief flirtation with the co-department thesis, “to divide power nominally, without giving to each party the means of protecting its share, is really not to divide it at all.’

The fatal weakness of the co-department theory was that it left the federal government no less sovereign than state governments. The same logic which gave state authorities power to nullify federal law gave federal authorities power to veto state law—including a law nullifying federal enactments. The problem was crucial because co-department theorists assumed that disputed power would lead to an appeal for a constitutional amendment. Three-fourths of the states, by amending the Constitution, could end a constitutional stalemate. But would the federal government be

presumed right unless the state government could procure a constitutional amendment? Or would a nullifying state remain the final judge unless it was overruled by three-fourths of the others? The difficulty of procuring so large a majority made the question crucial, and the theory of sovereign co-departments left the answer enigmatic.

Moreover, a citizen of a nullifying state was also a citizen of the federal government. Divided sovereignty meant divided allegiance and, in case of conflict, a unionist could legitimately obey national rather than state authorities.

33 Calhoun to [McLean], Oct. 4, 1828, McLean Papers. For a particularly good statement of the co-department thesis, see Evening Post, Nov. 3, 1831.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Freehling, William W. *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836*. New York: Harper & Row, 1966.

Footnote citation:

William W. Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836* (Harper & Row, 1966), 161–162.

Shortened citation:

Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War*, 161–162.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.35

Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833

Merrill D. Peterson

SELECTION	Matrix
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 1–2 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

I Matrix

On March 2,1833, amidst the deluge of legislation passed in the closing hours of the Twenty-second Congress, President Andrew Jackson signed into law two bills that ended the crisis of the Union provoked by South Carolina's nullifica¬ tion of the protective tariff just over three months before. The Compromise Tariff went some way toward meeting South Carolina's objections to protectionism by scheduling a grad¬ ual reduction of duties to the revenue level of 20 percent over a period of nine and one-half years. Although protectionist champion Henry Clay was its author, the chief of the Nullifiers, John C. Calhoun, nevertheless embraced it, and thus it had the character of a treaty of peace between opposing par¬ ties, policies, and interests. The other act, the Force Bill as it was called, authorized the president to employ the military, if necessary, to enforce the revenue laws and put down nullifica¬ tion in South Carolina. The two acts were, respectively, the olive branch and the sword of the great compromise that pre¬ served the peace, the Constitution, and the Union in 1833.

The history of the American republic from the Revolution to the Civil War is punctuated by chapters of crisis and com¬ promise. The Union itself was a compromise, like the Consti¬ tution, whose equivocal character—"partly national, partly federal" in the Madisonian formulation—seemed to require ongoing accommodation and compromise as the price of sur¬ vival. The task of the second generation of American states¬ men was markedly different from that of the founders—not of making a union and a constitution but of preserving them, not of securing liberty and self-government but of embellish¬ ing them. In a rapidly expanding and modernizing society the fulfillment of "this sacred trust" was beset with dangers both real and imaginary. The art of compromise became a con¬ serving force, cushioning the shocks of change, mediating between reason and violence, vindicating institutions at the expense of interests or doctrines; and when this art failed, fi¬ nally, the Union was dissolved. The story is familiar. Histo¬ rians of the middle period have written exhaustively of the Missouri Compromise of 1820 and the Compromise of 1850. But they have said very little about the Compromise of 1833, midway between these two great landmarks. It has generally been treated, wearily, as the tail end of the nullification con¬ troversy; for some more recent students it has been obscured entirely by the pyrotechnics of the Jacksonian Bank War. The Compromise of 1833 merits attention, however, not only for its importance in the nation's political history but as a case study in the politics of compromise itself.

Compromise, by definition, involves the mutual concession of principle or policy or interest, or all together, between con¬ flicting parties who discover they have more to gain than to lose by concessions. "The essence of politics is compromise," as Lord Macaulay remarked. But great compromise, as in the historic American Union, transcended ordinary politics and invites more particular analysis. Who were the parties to the Compromise of 1833? Who were its architects? Who were its beneficiaries? To these questions, as simple as they may seem, there are no simple answers.

What was being conceded by the two sides? The exist¬ ing Tariff of 1832, prospectively, and the South Carolina ordi¬ nance nullifying it, immediately; but these were only the leg¬ islative expressions of a conflict of ideas and interests that were much too powerful to be contained by the exigencies of compromise.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peterson, Merrill D. *Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Merrill D. Peterson, *Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833* (Louisiana State University Press, 1982), 1–2.

Shortened citation:

Peterson, *Olive Branch and Sword*, 1–2.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.36

The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun

Merrill D. Peterson

SELECTION	EPILOGUE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 495–496 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

On January 4, 1859, the Senate occupied its new chamber in the enlarged Capitol—the same chamber it occupies today. Vice President John C. Breckinridge, in an address on that occasion, summed up a thousand reminiscences of the old chamber in a dramatic evocation of Webster, Clay, and Calhoun: strokes of his deep tones and weighty words.

The Civil War was a judgment on each of the departed statesmen. For Clay it offered grim proof of the limits of compromise. That there were limits he knew very well; no senator in 1850 had been more emphatic about the consequences of passing them. But his system of politics had raised conciliation and compromise to the level of high principle, higher, indeed, where the Union was at issue, than a strict regard for moral duty or for self-interest. No one seriously believed that Clay, any more than Webster, would ever have given in to the idea that civil war was irrepressible. He would have fought for compromise to the bitter end. Predictably, in 1860 Kentucky was one of three states—Virginia and Tennessee were the others—to give its presidential vote to the Constitutional Union candidate, John Bell. But unlike Virginia and Tennessee, Kentucky stayed with the Union in 1861. Was it not symbolic that the first shots fired in the Civil War were fired in Charleston harbor upon a ship named Star of the West, which President Buchanan sent to provision Fort Sumter? Clay had declared, if secession and war came, he would stand with the Union. Many years later a southern historian of the war attributed Kentucky's adherence to the Union to the influence of "the peculiar philosophy of Henry Clay, who left an impress upon his State, which it remained for future generations to attest."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peterson, Merrill D. *The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Merrill D. Peterson, *The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 495–496.

Shortened citation:

Peterson, *The Great Triumvirate*, 495–496.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.37

The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis

Richard E. Ellis

SELECTION	The Nullification Crisis and Jacksonian Democracy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 183–184 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

For their part, the nullifiers claimed that their doctrines flowed naturally and inexorably from the Jeffersonian heritage as manifested in the Kentucky and Virginia Resolutions, and they did their best to avoid any discussion of how their controversial doctrine might differ from the more traditional and democratic kind of states' rights. These differences were precisely what the traditional states' rights spokesmen, critical of nullification, stressed. Between

1828, when the doctrine of nullification was first announced in the South Carolina Exposition and Protest, and the beginning of the crisis in December 1832, these spokesmen, led by the likes of James Madison, Edward Livingston, Levi Woodbury, Martin Van Buren, Thomas Ritchie, William Cabell Rives, and Andrew Jackson, denied that any legitimate connection existed between nullification and states' rights. Then, in his zeal to crush the nullifiers and to preserve the Union, Jackson issued his famous Proclamation which tended to endorse a nationalist interpretation of the origins and nature of the Constitution, and which embarrassed most traditional states' rights advocates. Ideological and political confusion followed, after which the crisis was resolved through a political compromise that failed to provide answers to the complex constitutional questions that had been raised in the debate over the legitimacy of nullification.

The seemingly inconclusive outcome of the nullification crisis, especially where constitutional issues are involved, should not obscure the fact that it basically worked to the advantage of the nullifiers. Calhoun and his supporters may have made some concessions on the tariff in 1833, but they had not been forced to back down in any way on their controversial assertions about the relationship of nullification and states' rights. Moreover, during the nullification crisis Jackson and his followers failed to articulate adequately the difference between their own commitment to states' rights and what South Carolina advocated. Their most serious attempt to do this came in speeches by Grundy and especially Rives on the Force bill, but its significance was lost in the political maneuverings that dominated Congress during February of 1833. For their part, in their speeches, Calhoun and his followers ignored the issues raised by the traditional advocates of states' rights; instead they focused on the nationalists' interpretation of the nature of the Union as advocated by Daniel Webster, John Quincy Adams, and others. In other words, the inability of the Jackson administration to articulate its own constitutional position effectively during the crisis allowed Calhoun to polarize the debate in terms of a struggle between a nationalist and states' rights interpretation of the Constitution, and for South Carolina to emerge as the advocate of states' rights thought in general and not just a particular variety of the doctrine. The significance of this became clear to Chief Justice Marshall early on in the crisis. "Our people," he wrote, "will be inextricably entangled in the labryinth of their state right theories, and the feeble attachment they still retain for the union will be daily weakened. We have fallen on evil times."

Immediately following the conclusion of the crisis, traditional states' righters urged the President to make use of his second inaugural address to clarify the confusion on constitutional questions, and especially the role of the states in the federal system of government, that had concerned so many Democrats in recent months. Although the President obliged, the results were disappointing. It was a very brief speech, and while it acknowledged the rights of the states it did not contain a creed like his fourth annual message; moreover, it also stressed the importance of maintaining the Union at all costs, thereby indicating the President was unwilling to recant on the principles of the Proclamation. The fact of the matter is that Jackson emerged from the nullification crisis extremely unhappy over the manner in which it had been settled. He was angry over the failure of key Democrats to give him their unqualified support in the

confrontation with South Carolina, and was unwilling to admit that there was any justice in the criticism of the Proclamation. He refused to discuss the matter with Van Buren, and as for the extensive debate on the issue of states' rights going on in the Old Dominion he is reported to have observed "what has Virginia to do with this matter? It is no business of hers. And there is Tom Ritchie talking about state rights. I have no patience to read such stuff. I fling his paper against the wall."

Author's Notes

13. On Macon and his relation to the Jacksonians, see especially: Benton, Thirty dears' View, I, 114-118.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ellis, Richard E. *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Richard E. Ellis, *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 183–184.

Shortened citation:

Ellis, *The Union at Risk*, 183–184.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.38

Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The Webster-Hayne Debate
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 319–320 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1997.

Excerpt

Since the founding of the Union under the Constitution a great many men had beheved that if they became dissatisfied with the workings of the system, or selves a new government. No more. That beliefwas moribund, as far as Webster was concerned. He looked to the day when the "Union may be perpetual. country from which the honorable member comes, who habitually speak of the Union in terms of indifference, or even of disparagement." Not the honorable member himself, of course. But those "others" frequently declare "that it is time

This is the first time that Webster called himself anything other than a Federalist. By these words he finally conceded that he had become a Repubh- Hayne s presumed attack on his section of the country. Actually Hayne had not attacked the East; Benton was the culprit. By rights Webster should have responded to Benton, but he deliberately chose Hayne as his target in order to provoke a debate on the Calhoun doctrine of interposition. "The East!" boomed Webster, "the obnoxious, the rebuked, the always reproached East!" We are charged with the crime of "a narrow and selfish policy," of attempting to restrain western migration and western interests. "And the cause of all this narrow and selfish policy, the gentleman finds in the tariff; I think he called it the accursed policy of the tariff." Webster had no difficulty in denying the charge, pointing out that New England had always opposed the votes. "It was truly more a Southern than an Eastern measure." He continued at some length about the unfairness of the everlasting attacks on New England.

As for opposing western settlement, he reminded the Senate that in 1825, debating George McDuffie of South Carolina in the House, he had defended lower prices for land to encourage migration while McDuffie had deplored them because they would drain the population of the East. Next he touched on a subject that he knew would explode any possibiHty of an aUiance between the South and the West: slavery. It was a stroke of pofitical that the Northwest Ordinance of 1787, by which the West could be settled and admitted as states, was "drawn" by Nathan Dane, then and now a citizen of Massachusetts.^^ The ordinance forbade slavery. It thereby "fixed for ever the character of the population in the vast regions northwest of the Ohio, by excluding from them involuntary servitude." Webster obviously impHed that such a population could never ally itself with the slaveowners of the South. The mere mention of slavery was sure to provoke a response, and as Webthis chamber could usually prompt heated debate.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time* (W. W. Norton, 1997), 319–320.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Daniel Webster*, 319–320.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.39

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 772–773 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

1860 —typified the shift. With Douglass defeat, Forsyth concluded, “the cause of the Union was lost,” and he started to resign himself to secession and civil war lest the South be “stripped of 25 hundred millions of slave property & to have loose among us 4,000,000 of freed blacks.” All across the Deep South, a pro- Douglas Georgia newspaper observed, “[t]he hopelessness of preserving the Union has made disunionists, since the election, of thousands of Conservative and Union men.”10

The Deep South debates over secession were mainly about means, not ends. In the secession conventions, the major fault line was never between Unionists and disunionists, but between two groups of disunionists: the conditional seces sionists (sometimes called, a bit confusingly, “cooperationists”) and the immedi ate secessionists. Conditional secessionists wanted to slow the chain reaction of state-by-state secessions. Some of them thought it wiser to organize a united southern confederacy first; others wanted to deliver a list of impossible demands to Lincoln and then secede; and still others truly wished to test Lincoln’s claims to moderation and await an overt act against the South before dissolving the Union. Although their ranks included a few leaders of great stature, including Alexander Stephens, few of the conditional secessionists had much faith that secession was avoidable, and virtually none thought that secession was illegiti mate. Some refused to assent when secession finally came —residents of one Alabama county burned Yancey in effigy—but the great majority signed on quickly thereafter, either out of localist loyalty or determination to resist any Yan kee interference. “I shall vote against the ordinance,” Nicholas Davis told the Alabama convention. “But if Alabama shall need the strong arm of her valorous sons to sustain her... I say for myself and for my constituents—and I dare say for all North Alabama —that I and they will be cheerfully ready to take our part in the conflict.” Stephens, who had argued for months that slavery was safer inside the Union than outside, backed the new sovereign state of Georgia as soon as it declared its independence."

More telling was a philosophical division within the disunionist camp over the constitutional theory of secession. The division was not sharply expressed in

1860 and 1861, in part because the immediate secessionists tried to soften it, in part because some major figures blew back and forth about it, and in part because the audacity of secession overwhelmed other considerations. But the division was real, and it conformed to the preexisting division between hard-core

Rhettists and the majority of slaveholder Master Race democrats.[12]

Fire-eater secessionists held the militant view that secession was perfectly legal and represented nothing radical. The core of their argument was the staterights compact theory of the Union as it had been developed by John C. Calhoun and then made operative by the fire-eaters in the 1850s. The states, so the argument went, existed before the Union. The Constitution did not alter the states’ powers and prerogatives as autonomous governments. By seceding, the states were merely reasserting the total sovereignty they had exerted in creating the Union in the first place. That assertion had been necessitated by a revolution undertaken by northern Republicans, who had abrogated the original constitu tional agreement that left slavery undisturbed. “I am a secessionist and not a rev olutionist,” William Yancey explained. The Republicans, Barnwell Rhett concurred, were “the practical revolutionists and hatchers of trouble,” opposed to the true southern conservatives. “We are not revolutionists,” the pro-fire-eater editor James D. B. De Bow declared. The southern states, one secessionist leader announced, had left the Union “to preserve their old

institutions" from "a revolu tion [that] threatened to destroy their social system."1'

Embodied in the militant fire-eater argument was a thorough repudiation of Jeffersonian politics, especially about equality and natural rights, in favor of what its proponents upheld as the natural differences among men. The new slavehold ers' republic would stand as a living refutation of Jefferson's harebrained egalitar ian doctrines, and of the anarchic vulgarities that had emanated from them and degraded the North. Fire-eater anti-Jeffersonianism did not, however, fully per suade the majority in the disunionist camp, including some like Jefferson Davis who had long been among the most forceful advocates of southern rights. The southern states, on this other view, had no more constitutional right to secede from the Union than the original colonies had to separate themselves from the British Empire. Instead, these secessionists draped themselves in the Jeffersonian natural right to revolution. Senator Alfred Iverson of Georgia put the matter squarely just before he departed Washington for good, insisting that although no state had the right to secede, "each State has the right of revolution, which all admit," when placed under burdens "so onerous that it cannot bear them." By this logic, the Republicans were the lories, enlarging and then abusing the pow ers of the central government to strangle the liberties of the revolutionary south ern patriots. Secession was a replay of the American Revolution, a new War of Southern Independence that aimed to vindicate, not repudiate, the struggles of the founding generation. Resisting "an unbridled majority, the most odious and least responsible form of despotism," Jefferson Davis intoned, echoing Calhoun, would "renew such sacrifices as our fathers made to the holy cause of constitu tional liberty."14

Author's Notes

12. The distinction, like many differences in political thinking, was not always clear-cut. At times, especially when it was politically convenient, the fire-eaters could present them selves as revolutionaries, and southern Democrats like Jefferson Davis could sound like perfect conservatives, claiming that secession was called a revolution only "by abuse of lan guage." Sometimes purposefully, sometimes out of confusion, some leading secessionists moved back and forth —or straddled both positions at once. The lines of divergence 1032 • INDEX Stearns, George L., 747, 794 Stephens, Alexander, 35, 484, 635, 662, 663,670-71,675,698, 716,718,754,757,763,772, 774-75, 776, 786 as Confederate vice-president, 777 Stevens, Thaddeus, 483,496-97, 630, 795,901 Stevenson, Andrew, 294 Steward, Ira, 794-95 Stewart, Alvan, 470, 547 Stewart, Charles, 747 Stewart, Maria, 337, 469 Stiles, Ezra, 266 stocks, 724, 875, 912 Stoddart, Benjamin, 95 Stokes, Montfort, 234 Stone, Barton, 265-66, 267 Stone, Lucy, 918 Stono Ferry, Battle of, 169 Story, Joseph, 55, 121, 176-77, 188, 312, 396-97,522,552, 590, 711 Stowe, Calvin, 655 Stowe, Harriet Beecher, 655-57, 677, 688, 733, 787, 924 Strader v. Graham, 711 strikes, 210, 282-83, 414, 415, 416, 721,858,936 Strong, Caleb, 162, 165, 166 Stuart, J. E. B., 749 Subterranean, 534 subtreasury, 458-63,465,476, 480, 485, 487, 492, 498, 500, 502, 508,510,514, 522, 524,528, 534, 577, 580, 594, 664, 720, 893, 904 suffrage, 24, 430, 447, 537, 551, 799 antidemocratic bias in state election laws and, 91 black, 186-87, 192-95, 199, 201, 202, 286,431,468, 512, 542, 554, 587,590, 592, 593, 598, 618,712, 806, 839-40, 841, 895,908,913 broadening of, 82-83 citizen, 839, 841 exclusionary laws and, 800 for ex-Confederates, 949 expansion of, 182 freehold, 27, 28,33-34, 83, 117, 186, 188, 189-90,192-95, 197, 198, 199, 201,341, 342-45,431,539, 541,544, 593,698, 806, 825,839-40, 841,906, 932 in Great Britain, 284 by immigrants, 193, 202 immigrants and, 193 Levellers on, 5 liberalization of, 28, 197 militia service and, 187, 192, 194, 198, 200,839 popular, 5 property qualification for, see suf frage, freehold reforms in, 116-18, 121-22 in South, 705 taxpayer, 14, 27, 28, 117, 122, 186-87, 188, 192, 194, 196, 197, 198, 200,431, 542, 590, 806, 826, 839 in territories, 197 universal, xvi, xviii, 483, 683, 729, 795 universal male, 188, 189, 201, 763 universal white male, 27, 186-87, 192,196, 197, 198, 199, 309-10, 341,485,514, 539-45,551,586, 587, 588, 913 whites-only, 117, 118, 122 women's, xx, 9, 122, 201-2, 354, 794, 806,918 772 • THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY sionists. The prominent Mobile, Alabama, editor John Forsyth Jr. —son of Mar tin Van Buren's meddlesome secretary of state and a resolute Douglas man in 1860 —typified the shift. With Douglass defeat, Forsyth concluded, "the cause of the Union was lost," and he started to resign himself to secession and civil war lest the South be "stripped of 25 hundred millions of slave property & to have loose among us 4,000,000 of freed blacks." All across the Deep South, a pro- Douglas Georgia newspaper observed, "[t]he hopelessness of preserving the Union has made disunionists, since the election, of thousands of Conservative and Union men."10 The Deep South debates over secession were mainly about means, not ends. In the secession conventions, the major fault line was never between Unionists and disunionists, but between two groups of disunionists: the conditional seces sionists (sometimes called, a bit confusingly, "cooperationists") and the immedi ate secessionists. Conditional secessionists wanted to slow the chain reaction of state-by-state secessions. Some of them thought it wiser to organize a united southern confederacy first; others wanted to deliver a list of impossible demands to Lincoln and then secede; and still others truly wished to test Lincoln's claims to moderation and await an overt act against the South before dissolving the Union. Although their ranks included a few leaders of great stature, including Alexander Stephens, few of the conditional secessionists had much faith that secession was avoidable, and virtually none thought that secession was illegiti mate. Some refused to assent when secession finally came —residents of one Alabama county burned Yancey in effigy—but the great majority signed on quickly thereafter, either out of localist loyalty or determination to resist any Yan kee interference. "I shall vote against the ordinance," Nicholas Davis told the Alabama convention. "But if Alabama shall need the strong arm of her valorous sons to sustain her... I say for myself and for my constituents—and I dare say for all North Alabama —that I and they will be cheerfully ready to take our part in the conflict." Stephens, who had argued for months that slavery was safer inside the Union than outside, backed the new sovereign state of Georgia as soon as it declared its independence." More telling was a philosophical division within the disunionist camp over the constitutional theory of secession. The division was not sharply expressed in 1860 and 1861, in part because the immediate secessionists tried to soften it, in part because some major figures blew back and forth about it, and in part because the audacity of secession overwhelmed other considerations. But the division was real, and it conformed to the preexisting division between hard-core Rhettists and the majority of slaveholder Master Race democrats.12 Fire-eater secessionists held the militant view that secession was perfectly legal and represented nothing radical. The core of their argument was the staterights compact theory of the Union as it had been developed by John C. Cal-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 772–773.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 772–773.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.40

Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836

William W. Freehling

SELECTION	TARIFF AND THE INDIRECT DEFENSE OF SLAVERY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 170–171 · Supplied edition: Harper & Row, 1966.

Excerpt

Union. Since a sovereign by definition had absolute authority, a.state should have had limitless authority to protect minorities in any way it liked without leaving the Union to do so. Yet unless and until the Union was dissolved, the secessionists' theory oF~ constitutional amendment gave minorities no check on the unlimited authority of a three-fourths majority. And unless the sovereign state opted for disunion, it could do no more than grovel portion of its constitution-making sovereignty when it delegated the power of constitutional amendment. In addition to dividing indivisible sovereignty, Calhoun un-, wittingly united his own irreconcilable opposites, sovereignty in enacting means of carrying out a decision—a sovereign nullifying convention would exercise governmental authority. The Nullification Ordinance of 1832 was no different from a Supreme ferent from a congressional law in its provisions for enforcing the judgment. The process of deciding constitutional issues was inevitably the twilight zone where government and sovereignty

(in Calhoun's sense) became indistinguishable. Calhoun may have under a constitution, could change the fundamental text by constitutional construction. But he missed the equally obvious point that the sovereign which formed the constitution would exercise governmental power when it sat in judgment on alleged constitutional changes. By plunging his sovereign into government, Calhoun unintentionally established an American version of a Blackstonian despot. Calhoun had embraced Blackstone's concept of absolute sovereignty, but had rejected the Englishman's notion that sovereigns must govern. If governments became sovereign, constitutions would no longer protect minorities. Calhoun's sovereign convenwith the rest of the Union, a nullification convention could do no more than negate law. But insofar as the sovereign could govern, it was by definition absolute, and it was capable of repressing a dissenting minority within the state. In the end, the theory of nullification succeeded in establishing the majority despotism on the state level which it sought to destroy nationally.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Freehling, William W. *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836*. New York: Harper & Row, 1966.

Footnote citation:

William W. Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836* (Harper & Row, 1966), 170–171.

Shortened citation:

Freehling, *Prelude to Civil War*, 170–171.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.41

The Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians

Francis Paul Prucha

SELECTION	Emigration of the Southern Tribes
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 215–216 · Supplied edition: University of Nebraska Press, 1984.

Excerpt

The first of the southern Indians to emigrate were the Choctaws, who moved from their homes in Mississippi to the region assigned them in what is now southeastern Oklahoma. Their removal was a sort of test case that exhibited the governmental pressures, tribal factionalism, hardships on the march, and troubles in establishing the nation in the West that marked the whole removal process."

The Choctaws had long experienced white pressures upon their nation. In 1801, 1803, 1805, and 1816 they had reluctantly signed treaties of cession with the United States by which large areas passed into the hands of the whites.* Although the Indians had retained most of central Mississippi, the creation of the state in 1817 brought increased demands for the Indian lands. After some unsuccessful attempts at negotiations, the United States (with Andrew Jackson as principal commissioner) signed the Treaty of Doak's Stand with the Choctaws on October 18, 1820. The preamble noted that it was "an important object with the President of the United States, to promote the civilization of the Choctaw Indians, by the establishment of schools amongst them; and to perpetuate them as a nation, by exchanging, for a small part of their land here, a country beyond the Mississippi River, where all, who live by hunting and will not work, may be collected and settled together."

The Choctaws, in exchange for five million acres in west central Mississippi, received some thirteen million acres between the Arkansas and Canadian rivers and the Red River, partly in Arkansas Territory and partly to the west. The residents of Arkansas were hostile to the treaty, which would bring more Indians into the territory, and the Choctaws for their part were reluctant to leave Mississippi. In 1825, by a treaty signed in Washington, a new boundary line was drawn along the western border of Arkansas and additional annuities were provided for the Choctaws.* Under the Removal Act of 1830, Jackson sought to eliminate the remaining Choctaws from Mississippi by the cession of all the lands they still owned in the state, and some of the Choctaws were receptive to the idea. Greenwood LeFlore, a mixed-blood Choctaw courted by the government and encouraged by the Methodist missionary Alexander Talley, drafted a removal treaty very favorable to the Indians and sent it to the president for acceptance.

Although Jackson took the unprecedented step of submitting the "treaty" to the Senate for its advice, nothing came of the move, for the Senate refused to consider the document. Jackson then sent Secretary of War John Eaton and his old friend John Coffee to treat with the Choctaws in Mississippi, where they met with a huge gathering of five to six thousand Indians at Dancing Rabbit Creek in September 1830. Having sent the missionaries away from the treaty grounds lest they influence the Indians, Eaton and Coffee warned the Indians that if they did not move they would have to submit to state laws and thus lose their tribal existence. By providing generous land allotments and other benefits to tribal leaders, the commissioners were able to sign a treaty with the Choctaws on September 27.° The Choctaws agreed to relinquish all their lands east of the Mississippi and in return received "in fee simple to them and their descendants, to inure to them while they shall exist as a nation and live on it" the territory that had already been marked out in the treaty of 1825.

The national existence of the Indians in the West was strongly guaranteed by the United States in the fourth article: The Government and people of the United States are hereby obliged to secure to the said Choctaw Nation of Red People the jurisdiction and government of all the persons and property that may be within their limits west, so that no Territory or State shall ever have a right to pass laws for the government of the Choctaw Nation of Red People and

their descendants; and that no part of the land granted them shall ever be embraced in any Territory or State; but the U.S. shall forever secure said Choctaw Nation from, and against, all laws except such as from time to time may be enacted in their own National Councils, not inconsistent with the Constitution, Treaties, and Laws of the United States; and except such as may, and which have been enacted by Congress, to the extent that Congress under the Constitution are required to exercise a legislation over Indian Affairs.
But the Choctaws, should this treaty be ratified, express a wish that Congress may grant to the Choctaws the right of punishing by their own laws, any

Author's Notes

2. The fullest work on Choctaw removal is Arthur H. DeRosier, Jr., The Removal of the Choctaw Indians (Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1970), but it gives too much weight to differences between the removal policies of Calhoun and Jackson. A good brief account is Muriel H. Wright, "The Removal of the Choctaws to the Indian Territory, 1830-1833," Chronicles of Oklahoma 6 (June 1928): 103-28. Ronald N. Satz, American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press,)/ PP-64-96, treats Choctaw removal as a "test case." See also Foreman, Indian Removal, pp. 19-104. 1

3. Kappler, pp. 56-58, 69-70, 87-88, 137. These treaties are discussed in DeRosier, Removal of the Choctaw Indians, pp. 28-37.

4. Kappler, pp. 191-95, 211-14; DeRosier, Removal of the Choctaw Indians, pp. 53 - 99 s The Choctaws agreed to relinquish all their lands east of their limits west, so that no Territory or State shall ever have a right ever be embraced in any Territory or State; but the U.S. shall forever

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Prucha, Francis Paul. *The Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians*. 2 vols. Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Francis Paul Prucha, *The Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians* (University of Nebraska Press, 1984), 215–216.

Shortened citation:

Prucha, *The Great Father*, 215–216.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.42

Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation

John Ehle

SELECTION	TRAIL OF TEARS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 122–123 · Supplied edition: New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Excerpt

General Jackson was enraged, not by the wanton destruction, which was contrary to his orders, but by the Cherokees having made the matter public. He denied it, all of it; not a cow had died in all Cherokee territory, the claims were lies, and what were not lies were exaggerated.

Meigs wrote him, giving details and listing witnesses, among them soldiers known personally to Jackson, Major Ridge among them. Jackson resisted admitting any error on his part, or on the white Tennesseans'.

The dramatic accounts of General Jackson's victory were excitedly discussed all across the country. He was made famous by the battle. Not long thereafter, in 1815, he became a second-time hero when he commanded the American army that defeated the British at the Battle of New Orleans.

This victory came about in spite of a magnificent British army, the men who had defeated Napoleon's. Their prideful British officers lined them up in columns and had them advance against bulwarks manned by Jackson's men, who were frontier riflemen, French pirates, dandies from Louisiana high society as well as soldiers. The British officers had no respect for unprofessional, civilian soldiers, so they picked that portion of Jackson's line manned by what appeared to be civilian rabble: they sent their soldiers toward the Tennessee volunteers, who shot the men dead. There were many ways to approach and occupy New Orleans without confronting Jackson's prepared fortification. It was a matter of honor for the British officers to prove the courage of their men.

This providential victory changed governmental control of the Mississippi Valley, ending British claims and securing those of the United States. Also, it enhanced the opinion of Europeans toward this rowdy, new, roughhewn country, this American republic. The victory set the tide of opinion against the view of many American citizens, who contended that the new country should be satisfied with its present territory and not spread thin its population and limited power. It strengthened the arguments of those who saw America as a larger territory, who believed the destiny of the new country did not lie only along the Atlantic seaboard—a popular view in the Northeast and New England— their new hero was the general from Tennessee, Andrew Jackson.

He basked in the glory. He needed it for his soul's sake. He loved it. He could see great rewards ahead.

In the North Tecumseh had died in battle, his army defeated. In the South the Creek Red Sticks were defeated and the Americans had conquered the British. Left living along the tributaries of the greatest river in the world were eighty-five Indian tribes, none, as Jackson saw, competently led, none with a constituted government. Each had treaties with the various governments, including that of the United States, guaranteeing their rights to portions of this valuable land; but Indians could be manipulated and bought. He had bribed Indians all his life. Certainly, there was no reason to allow them to handicap the new empire, to stand in the way of his national goals, his dreams for the United States. Involved were only 125,000 Indians in all, and most of them were Cherokees, Creeks, Chickasaws, and Choctaws, the four tribes close to Tennessee. Of the others, the Shawnee and Sioux were defeated, and the Seminoles were under weak Spanish protection in Florida. The Spanish in Europe were faltering and would fall easily in America, if pushed. Any realist could see that the continent could be won.

General Jackson negotiated the peace settlement with the Creeks. He stated his terms, thirty-six thousand square miles of land, some 23 million acres. The Creek chiefs replied that they had been fighting the Red Sticks, too, that it

had been a revolution within their tribe and should not cost the tribe anything. Jackson said the war had been expensive for everybody.

The Creek chiefs left the conference, claiming they did not feel well.

Part of the territory Jackson forced the Creeks to cede, some 1. million acres, was claimed by Cherokees as well as Creeks; it had been used by both for many years, serving as a buffer zone between them. There was no exact boundary. Jackson knew full well that the Cherokees had equal claim to this area of three thousand square miles, but he wanted the land. The Cherokees had done well in the war, he admitted. Now let them be helpful in times of peace.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ehle, John. *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation*. New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Footnote citation:

John Ehle, *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation* (New York: Doubleday, 1988), 122–123.

Shortened citation:

Ehle, *Trail of Tears*, 122–123.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.43

Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian

Michael Paul Rogin

SELECTION	HAPTER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 7–8 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Excerpt

PNUD TAN VRE VG @ay gee

Indian removal, Andrew Jackson wrote after he left the Presidency, was the "most arduous part of my duty, and I watched over it with great vigilance." The Indian-removal bill, Alabama Congressman Dixon Lewis maintained, was "known as the leading measure" of the Jackson administration. Massachusetts Congressman Edward Everett called it "the greatest question that ever came before Congress, short of the question of peace and war.' Indian removal involved the massive population transfer of eastern Indians to land west of the Mississippi River. By the end of Jackson's administration, every tribe east of the Mississippi and south of Lake Michigan, save for two tiny bands in Ohio and Indiana, had come under government removal programs. Jackson and Van Buren largely completed the elimination of Indians from the northeast, but northeastern removal involved only a few thousand Indians. The major northeastern Indians, the Iroquois confederation in New York, ultimately resisted removal. The Six Nations maintained their numbers and tribal integrity better than any removed tribe. Indian removal had a significant and disastrous impact on the several thousand Sac and Fox Indians of Illinois.
It made inroads among the tribes of the northwestern Great Lakes region. The bulk of eastern Indians lived in the south, however, and they were the major target of removal demands. Removal uprooted 70,000 southern Indians from their homes. By 1844 only a few thousand, scattered in swamps and mountains, were left." Jackson's pre-presidential efforts failed to drive the southern tribes across the Mississippi, and his Indian policy failed on other counts as well. His paternalism remained too directly rooted in primitive rage for its benevolent claims to carry conviction. He asserted too great a responsibility for the fate of the tribes, in the face of their imminent destruction. Jackson's mature Indian policy not only gained Indian land. It also distanced itself from intimate involvement with the savages, expressed a grander concern for their condition, and protected the President from responsibility for the consequences of his acts. Jackson, in the service of these ends, successfully synthesized the two governing ideologies of his prepresidential Indian policy—paternalism and the treatment of Indians as individual freely contracting men. [7] President Jackson modified and extended the paternalism which had structured Indian policy for his predecessors. He promised to rescue his "red children" from the advancing tide of white settlement in the east, protect them in the west, and help them advance to civilization. His paternal language was largely free of the exterminatory rhetoric which had marked his earlier career. It more closely resembled the rhetoric used in the Washington, Jefferson, and Monroe administrations. This classic paternalism recognized that Indians, left to themselves, would not internalize the motivating principles of market civilization. Liberal society, as Adam Smith and John Adams had described it, progressed by emulation. Always unsatisfied with their present condition, men copied the successes of others and sought to improve themselves. They internalized personal ambition and the desire for the good opinion of others. Since the external and internalized eyes of society provided order, men could enjoy individual freedom.* Indians refused to participate in this process. The techniques of market individualism, therefore, were failing to acquire Indian land. In Lewis Cass' words,

A principle of progressive improvement seems almost inherent in human sire to meliorate their condition. There is nothing stationary around us. We are all striving in the career of life to acquire riches, or honor, or power, or some other object, whose possession is to realize the day dreams of our imaginations, and the aggregate of these efforts constitutes the advance of society.

Author's Notes

7. Sketches of Eccentricities of Col. David Crockett, quoted in Vernon L. Parrington, Main Currents in American Thought, 2 vols. (N.Y., 1954 [first published 1927]), II, 168. Here the horse-alligator serves genteel Whig purposes, but Jacksonians also identified themselves by that symbol. Cf. Parrington, II, 165-72; Lynn, pp. 52-61,? Notes /

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rogin, Michael Paul. *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Paul Rogin, *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1975), 7–8.

Shortened citation:

Rogin, *Fathers and Children*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.44

Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The Indian Removal Act
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 237–238 · Supplied edition: Viking, 2001.

Excerpt

This monumental event in American histor}' brought the entire government into the process of expelling the southern Indians from their homeland. Heretofore the early Presidents—many ofwhom were founding fathers of the Republic—removed Indians by executive initiative. ^Tiat Jackson did was force the

There was no way the American people would continue to allow the presence of culture and life would engulf them. The Indian Removal Act did not order the removal of the Indians, even though that was a foregone conclusion once the talks actually began about exchanging land. And, as far as Jackson was concerned, the Indians could refiise to remove and stay where they were; but if they stayed, they had to recognize that they were subject to state law and jurisdiction. No longer could they live under their own laws and practices. Henceforth the laws and practices would be white laws and white practices. But knowing Indians as he did, he understood that few heritage and way of life.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. Andrew Jackson and His Indian Wars. New York: Viking, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars* (Viking, 2001), 237–238.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars*, 237–238.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.45

American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era

Ronald N. Satz

SELECTION	American Indian Policy86
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 86–87 · Supplied edition: University of Oklahoma Press, 2002.

Excerpt

Some Choctaw mixed-bloods, like Greenwood LeFlore, re¬ mained unmolested in Mississippi and became prominent citizens and politicians. The majority of the full-bloods remaining in the state comprised a pitiful population of “stragglers” whose pres¬ ence caused great “annoyance” to the people of Mississippi.

During the latter part of Jackson’s second administration, a congressional investigation promoted by prominent Whigs fo¬ cused attention on the beleaguered Choctaws in Mississippi. John Bell of Tennessee, a convert to the anti-Jackson forces, charged that all the “embarrassments” suffered by these Indians resulted from the malfeasance of agent Ward and the administration’s overzealousness in bringing Indian land to market. This criticism stirred the president to action. The administration offered to reim¬ burse all Choctaw heads of families who could submit "any credi¬ ble evidence, documentary or oral, coming from any disinterested source” that Ward had refused to register them. On Old Hickory’s last day in office, Congress passed legislation providing for the appointment of a committee to adjust the Choctaw land claims.

Investigations of the Choctaw claims during the administration of Martin Van Buren uncovered the extensive frauds perpetrated against Indian holders of reserves. Similar investigations took place under Presidents John Tyler and James K. Polk, but pressure from the Mississippi delegation in Congress led all three adminis¬ trations to stress removal and reimbursement of the Indians rather than the relocation of allotments for those defrauded of their land. Some Choctaw stragglers made their way to the new western Indian country during the 1830s and ’40s but the majority of these Indians remained in Mississippi as impoverished itinerant agricul¬ tural laborers. Their precarious position in the state became clear in 1833 when a new constitution was ratified by the people of Mississippi. The new frame of government limited the suffrage to free white males and stipulated that the “legislature shall have power to admit to all the rights and privileges of free white citi¬ zens of this State all such... Indians as shall choose to remain in this State, upon such terms as the legislature may from time to time deem proper.” The vision of Choctaw homesteaders becom¬ ing American citizens residing in Mississippi had faded into obscu¬ rity.

Andrew Jackson had hoped that the Choctaw removal of 1831— 1833 would set into motion a great tide of Indian emigration to the trans-Mississippi West and simultaneously pacify domestic opposi¬ tion to his removal policy. The fate of the emigrating Choctaws and their brethren remaining in Mississippi, however, demon¬ strated that noble rhetoric was insufficient to protect the Indians from poor planning and the vicissitudes of bureaucratic ineffi¬ ciency or inclement weather, the incompetence or greed of re¬ moval personnel and contractors, and the land hunger of white speculators and squatters. The total expenditure incurred by the United States government under the Treaty of Dancing Rabbit Creek came to $5,097,367.50, or about two million dollars more than the amount the Jackson administration had assured Congress would be needed to remove all eastern tribes to lands west of the Mississippi River. Yet with respect to Jackson’s original intentions, the Choctaw removal was only a partial failure. While it was not the showcase Jacksonians had hoped for, it did not prevent the removal of other eastern tribes.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Satz, Ronald N. *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Ronald N. Satz, *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era* (University of Oklahoma Press, 2002), 86–87.

Shortened citation:

Satz, *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era*, 86–87.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.46

Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War

A. J. Langguth

SELECTION	AJOR RIDGE (1825)
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 29–30 · Supplied edition: Simon & Schuster, 2010.

Excerpt

A Cherokee named simply Ridge found himself torn between endorsing the white man's treaties and enforcing his tribe's blood law. Ridge's grandfather had been a Highland Scot, a trader who returned to Europe and left behind a Cherokee wife and daughter. Raised as a Cherokee in eastern Tennessee, Ridge had laughed in disbelief when he heard that his grandfather had often spoken to God as though he were talking to a personal guardian. Cherokees knew the Great Spirit was nothing like that. The Europeans who followed William Fyffe to Cherokee country agreed with him that they were an amiable and well-proportioned people. They found Cherokee women, with their olive skin and small hands and feet, remarkably attractive. Records indicated that as far back as 1690, a white Virginia trader named Alexander Dougherty had taken a Cherokee bride. Europeans commented on the Cherokee habit of not looking directly into the eyes of another person and of speaking so softly they often had to repeat what they had said. To the white man's ear, everyday Cherokee speech could sound like singing.

When they got hold of liquor, the men might drink too much, but they forgave one another any offense committed while drunk, except murder. Unsympathetic white observers regarded one habit as particularly "savage." The Cherokees had no fixed time for meals. They ate only Ridge's English name had come from the neighboring mountains. In Cherokee, he was Nun-na-dihi—He Who Slays the Enemy in the Path. Throughout his teens, he had sometimes joined in terrorizing white settlers on their neighboring farms, but by his twenties, he had settled down and courted Sehoya, a good-looking girl of mixed blood often called Susanna Wickett. With Ridge's imposing height and heavy features, he commanded an easy respect within the Cherokee council. His frown could be intimidating, but Susanna saw a softer side. The couple was married at the council house in Pine Log village, attended by their families and the local shaman. The service was simple. Susanna took Ridge's ceremonial blanket from his hand and clasped it to her own. At that, the town chieftain stepped forward to say, "The blankets joined," and Ridge had taken a wife.

As his hair turned white, Ridge became a dominant voice on the local council, and he could expand his modest holdings. He continued to hunt for animal hides while Susanna worked at a loom sent by the federal government. When the cloth produced by the village women proved profitable, Ridge bought a few slaves so he could harvest even more cotton for their weaving. Raw cotton had become a prized commodity and one more reason for white settlers to covet Indian land. Farmers were turning their tobacco fields over to the far more lucrative crop with the white flowers that dropped as cotton bolls. In a good year, a five-hundred-pound bale could fetch $145, and Georgia's expanding crop made the state the world's largest cotton producer. Men were calling it, with due respect, "King Cotton." Susanna gave birth to four children who survived; the third child, Walter, was born weak-minded.

At about the time that she gave birth to a son and named him John, another boy was born to Ridge's shy brother—a religious convert who had shortened his surname from Oo-watie to Watie and taken David as his Christian name. David

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Langguth, A. J. *Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2010.

Footnote citation:

A. J. Langguth, *Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War* (Simon & Schuster, 2010), 29–30.

Shortened citation:

Langguth, *Driven West*, 29–30.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.47

The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians

Anthony F. C. Wallace

SELECTION	THE LONG, BITTER TRAIL
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

Americans of all sorts, in all kinds of places, were obsessed with Southern cotton. The hunger for new cotton lands affected all classes of Southern society. Not merely prospective growers of plantation cotton caught the "Alabama fever," but also land speculators, and settlers who expected to make their fortunes in subsidiary activities on which the plantations depended— millwrights, blacksmiths, and other artisans of all kinds, doctors and lawyers, teamsters and steamboat captains, storekeepers and small farmers and railway workers. The demand for raw cotton was also increasing in the Northern United States, particularly in New England and Pennsylvania, where American cotton mills were beginning to compete with the British in the expanding American market for cotton goods. The Northern factories were aided, to be sure, by a protective tariff, which drove up the cost of British goods in the North as well as the South, and was leading to a bitter interregional conflict over federal tariff policy.

The increasing resentment in the South against the protective tariff was only one factor in the rise of a separatist sentiment that was becoming increasingly virulent. Particularly in Georgia, there was real bitterness against the federal government (which alone had the constitutional authority to hold treaties with the Native Americans and to purchase their lands) for its failure to remove the Indians. It had promised to do so as long ago as

1802, when Georgia relinquished to the United States its claim to sovereignty over what became the states of Alabama and Mississippi. The promise to purchase all the Native American land in Georgia, turn it over to the state, and transport the Indians elsewhere still remained partially unfulfilled when the Removal Act was finally passed, after much debate, in 1830.

The urge to convert "unused" Indian land into commercially productive cotton fields affected not only the white folks but the Native Americans themselves. Among the Southern Indians particularly, there was a recognized social class called "halfbreeds," distinguished from the "full-bloods" by some degree of white ancestry, usually on the father's side. Many of these half-breeds were sired by men of property who had taken refuge, or made their fortunes in, Indian country, had married Indian—or part-Indian—women, and had raised their children in homes where English was spoken. These children were sent to mission schools or even to white academies, where they received anything from a basic acquaintance with the three R's to an education in the classics and advanced training in one of the professions. Although they identified themselves as Indians in a native community where one's tribal and clan membership were inherited from the mother, they emulated their white cousins in economic behavior. For a considerable number of half-breeds, the form this emulation took—-or perhaps compe¬ tition would be a better word—was to establish a cotton plan¬ tation, complete with mansion house, livestock, and black slaves.

One of the most successful of the Native American plantation owners was the Cherokee chief John Ross (1790—1866). His father was a Loyalist of Scottish origin who fled the persecution of the rebels during the Revolution, married a Cherokee woman (herself actually of only one-quarter Indian descent), and remained with the tribe after independence. John Ross was educated at a white academy in Tennessee but returned to live in the Cherokee country. During the War of 1812, being literate in English as well as fluent in Cherokee, he volunteered to serve as adjutant officer to a regiment of Cherokee warriors recruited by Andrew Jackson to fight against the Creeks, who had joined the British. He took part with Jackson and Coffee in the bloody battle at Horseshoe Bend on the Tallapoosa River, where Ross's regiment played a major role in the slaughter of over five hundred Creek fighters and

the sacking of their main fortified town.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Anthony F. C. Wallace, *The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians* (Hill and Wang, 1993), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Wallace, *The Long, Bitter Trail*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.48

Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South

Barbara Krauthamer

SELECTION	Ed Bailey, formerly
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Excerpt

a slave of Kovert M. Jones, Choctaw Nation. (Robert L. Williams Collection; courtesy of the Oklahoma Historical Society) It was, of course, enslaved people's labor—draining swamps, cutting trees, hauling logs, and building fences—that transformed the land into "cotton country.' In the summer of 1834, Peter Pitchlynn moved his family and slaves out of the flood-damaged Mushulatubbee District and settled near the Mount Fork River in the Apukshunnubbee District. There, his slaves were put to work, clearing the land, constructing their own cabins, and also building a large home for the Pitchlynn family. A few years later, Pitchlynn claimed another tract of land not far from the Wheelock Mission and even closer to the Red River.' Polly Colbert, a former slave of the Chickasaw Colbert family, said of the early days in Indian Territory: "The land was first cleared up and worked by... slaves" Chickasaw planters and farmers, too, settled close to the Red River, the southern boundary of Indian Territory that separated the Indian nations from Texas.

Chickasaw George Colbert operated a plantation where his 150 slaves were expected to "cultivate, [in 1838], from three to five hundred acres in cotton, besides making corn sufficient for his hands."* a "J was born at Tishomingo and we moved to de farm on Red River soon after.' On the eve of the Civil War, Choctaw Robert Jones owned at least 227 slaves and operated four plantations that stretched across this region.' Some estimates put the number of slaves owned by Jones closer to 500, which would have made him one of the largest slaveholders in Indian Territory and the United States.° By the 1850s, a growing number of slaves could also be found on newly established plantations farther north, close to the Arkansas River in Skullyville County. In 1846 the U.S. Indian Agent found that the more prosperous Choctaw and Chickasaw planters had "most excellent cotton gins" and had little difficulty selling "their produce" in the neighboring states."

Indian planters found ready markets for their slave-grown corn, cotton, and cattle in the surrounding states and closer to home at the U.S. military posts in Indian Territory.' The town of Doaksville, in Towson County, developed as a principal hub of commerce in the nation, with boats collecting and delivering merchandise and mail at Fort Towson landing, close to the mouth of the Kiamichi River. Steamboats plied the Red River and its tributaries, picking up bales of cotton at Fort Towson and linking Indian planters to markets and merchants in Shreveport and New Orleans. Newspapers in Texas and Indian Territory routinely advertised the packets running on the Red River between Indian country and Louisiana. For example, a boat went up the Boggy River to one of Robert Jones's plantations to collect his bales of cotton. Like Jones, other wealthy planters expanded their investments in the slave-based cotton economy by establishing trading firms and acquiring steamships. Chickasaw planter Benjamin Franklin Colbert, for example, operated a ferry across the Red River to facilitate travel and commerce between Indian Territory and Texas.' So thoroughly had slavery and cotton infused the society that Chickasaws named their county with the largest number of plantations, cotton gins, and steamboat landings "Panola," a variant of "ponola,' the Chickasaw word for "thread" and Choctaw word for "cotton?"

The development of cotton plantations and other commercial agricultural and livestock enterprises in the unified Choctaw/Chickasaw Nation paralleled the growth of cotton agriculture in the Creek and Cherokee Nations. Historian David Chang explains that the proliferation of individually operated farms and plantations in the Creek Nation rested

squarely on a widening notion of "private ownership of land-use rights." Among Cherokees, likewise, daily practices and legal definitions of land use shifted to permit and protect the ability of individuals and families to acquire and claim land for their personal

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Krauthamer, Barbara. *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Barbara Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2013), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.49

African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens

Celia E. Naylor

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 17–18 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2008.

Excerpt

Miles describes as a burgeoning Cherokee "middle class," exhibited "qualities that set them apart from most Cherokee people."?* Over time, plantation slavery in the Cherokee Nation contributed to the creation of "two distinct classes within Cherokee society not only in an economic sense but also in terms of values and world views." Cherokees who supported removal often emulated southern, white slaveholding sensibilities and rejected the adherence to traditional Cherokee belief systems. Cherokees who opposed removal primarily believed in traditional Cherokee worldviews and questioned the legitimacy and relevance of European American mores. The dissension about plantation slavery and Cherokee belief systems, as well as the ramifications of slaveholding in Cherokee society, would continue to plague the Cherokee Nation even after removal to Indian Territory. Estimates vary as to the number of southeastern Indians forcibly relocated to Indian Territory. Historians are equally uncertain about the preremoval population of enslaved blacks in the Cherokee, Creek, Choctaw, Chickasaw, and Seminole nations. A census of the Cherokee Nation, conducted in December 1835 by the U.S.

War Department, indicated that the Cherokee Nation in the East included 16,542 Cherokee Indians, 1,592 enslaved blacks, and 201 intermarried whites in the states of North Carolina, Georgia, Alabama, and Tennessee.** Most scholars agree that prior to removal, there were at least goo—1,000 enslaved blacks in three of the five nations—the Cherokee, Creek, and Chickasaw nations. Yet, due to the smaller number of Indians in the Chickasaw Nation (between 5,000 and 6,000 in 1837), compared to the Cherokee Nation (at least 15,000 in 1835) and the Creek Nation (at least 20,000 in 1832), the percentage of enslaved blacks in the Chickasaw Nation was significantly higher than in the other nations. A census of the Choctaw Nation in 1831 reported 512 enslaved blacks in a population of more than 19,500. Yet some scholars have argued that the enslaved population in the Choctaw Nation could have been considerably smaller."

Although the enslavement of African-descended people existed within all Five Tribes, the Seminoles absorbed enslaved people within their communities in a manner that scholars have described as far less rigid and constrained than the other four nations.** Possibly due to the particular nature of the Seminoles' relationship with blacks, the Seminole Nation refused to reveal the number of free or enslaved African Seminoles in the period before removal. The African Seminole population, enslaved and free, could have been as high as one-fifth or onesixth of the total Seminole population of approximately 5,000."° Overall, only a small percentage of Indians in the Five Tribes enslaved blacks; the majority of these slave owners operated small farms with fewer than ten enslaved blacks before and after removal. During and after the removal process, enslaved people in the Five Tribes assisted with the survival and reestablishment of these nations in Indian Territory. Enslaved African Cherokees who relocated with their Cherokee enslavers in the winter of 1838-39 performed duties that sustained the removal detachments overall. As they traveled, some slaves trekked ahead and cleared the way for the larger groups.

Cherokee owners utilized enslaved people along the trail as they had before removal. Enslaved African Cherokees worked as watchmen, hunters, cooks, and nurses. By assisting their owners and others during the removal process, enslaved people helped to minimize the intensity of some aspects of this intolerable journey for all Indians, whether they owned slaves or not.*° Experiencing the range of challenges along the trail perhaps cemented among some enslaved people a sense of mutual struggle and survival in relation to Indians. Others might have viewed their additional tasks and their different "place" within the removal detachments as simply a reinforcement of their outsider status in these Indian nations. However they might have construed their passage to Indian Territory, after

arrival their duties as enslaved people underscored that journeying and suffering together would not engender equal status in the new land. After removal, owners employed slave labor in a variety of ways. Enslaved African Cherokees worked in prescribed roles as domestics within their owners' homes and as agricultural laborers. Prior to removal, enslaved people had worked with a variety of crops in the southeastern states, including cotton, tobacco, potatoes, and indigo;

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Naylor, Celia E. *African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2008.

Footnote citation:

Celia E. Naylor, *African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens* (University of North Carolina Press, 2008), 17–18.

Shortened citation:

Naylor, *African Cherokees in Indian Territory*, 17–18.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.50

Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory

Claudio Saunt

SELECTION	UNWORTHY REPUBLIC
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 194–195 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Excerpt

gene ocean that covered the region between 23 and 145 million years ago.* The soil's high calcium content would turn out to be a boon for planters, since cotton takes up the nutrient in especially large quantities.

It was not just geography that drew planters to the native South. They had spent the previous decades exhausting the lands in Georgia and the Carolinas, as they themselves acknowledged. They could now "exchange the cultivation of poor or worn out lands, for the fresh and fertile soil" in Mississippi. Native country, Hubbard assured Beers, was "sought for by the cotton planters from the worn out lands of Georgia and Carolina, with great avidity." When the time came to flip the lands, speculators made the same pitch. "It is confidently recommended to the growers of Cotton, to abandon their worn out lands," Eli Shorter advertised in the pages of the Columbus Enquirer, "and timely to secure themselves homes, before this last desirable scope of new country is taken up and settled."

There is ample evidence that native peoples exhausted soils with the ee cultivation of corn, but three fac- Importamt te Couen Planters.

ILE subscribers offie Cor sale apon soc ccumode tag terms, the whole or aay porte of the fillowieg Jude svaaicl in the Crook teeiiory, alehaae jends generally are ality, wall warced and hatin iy uy, calaaoeta of Cot top, and promising to vecupanta the eajoy x With the Aluneuna Raver om the Wet, aiat tho Chaitaleocher on the Haat, (both pavigable by tenn vats) em! a 'farulity of sail rarely 10 be found, it ss cosfideutly reeommended to tle growere of Cuttau, to abandon their worn prey eg aE em ie tors differentiated them from their neighbors in the United States. The first simply had to do with numbers.

Because there were fewer indigenous this teat scope, of wr country takes, up aud = 'ee Americans, they placed less pressure ' Woalterse tt gi | mat ore MS He oS.. wes sea jai °. wi) on the land. Second, most native Ne @u |] Wee & 36 &. " BS as| Ns sw) farmers did not dedicate themselves —* 2H. bd * 3 le ow Bill bats r — et to the intensive growing of cotton.

Unlike peaches and apples, which "Important to Cotton Planters."

This detail shows eighteen of the native peoples eagerly cultivated, 385 tracts, amounting to over 192 cotton belonged toa global market square miles, that Eli Shorter in which individuals strove to proadvertised for sale in the Colum- ducelasimuch ofthe crop as possible, bus Enquirer in April 1835. The rectangular survey system made it easy to identify and list the tracts. using slave labor as needed, to sell the harvest at the highest market price—all for the purpose of buying more land and more slaves. The practice, needless to say, was not kind to the land or to the enslaved people. It was also risky. International price fluctuations could leave farmers holding a worthless crop that, no matter how bountiful, could not feed a family. Moreover, monocrop agriculture places families at the mercy of drought, pestilence, and natural disaster. Only extremely foolhardy or avaricious indigenous farmers would wager their fortunes on such a crop. Third, what were wastelands to planters in the United States were valuable resources to native farmers.

Forests and prairies, edge zones between croplands and woods, and old fields provided habitat for game animals and hosted blackberries, mulberries, persimmons, and other useful plants. Natural harvests made up a significant

portion of the annual diet in indigenous nations, as the Choctaw names for summer months reveal: Aash bihi "mulberry month"), hash bissa ("blackberry month"), and hash kafi ("sassafras month"). The Black Prairie lands produced wild strawberries in the summer and, after indigenous residents burned the grasses in the fall, brought forth a proliferation of mushrooms. (Unable to resist the strawberries, Bolton overindulged on one occasion and suffered from a "slight bilious affliction.")}+ Whereas indigenous farmers had preserved this varied landscape, planters from the United States set their slaves to work clearing, plowing, and sowing it with cottonseed. The conversion of the Black Prairie to monocrop agriculture and the dispossession of its longtime residents did not trouble the speculators. "The dawn of civilization now beams on its horizon," toasted one gathering of bankers and politicians in Natchez, Mississippi.

They were less optimistic about the fate of native peoples, though they suggested that everyone could be a winner in this best of all possible dispossessions. "If capable of civilization," they hedged, "how glorious the destiny which awaits our Indians in their new home." The prospect of profits overwhelmed all else. Land in the Chickasaw Nation, declared one enthusiast to an out-of-state investor, was "the best cotton Estate in the World." From his post in Pontotoc, John Bolton thrilled to the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saunt, Claudio. *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Claudio Saunt, *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory* (W. W. Norton, 2020), 194–195.

Shortened citation:

Saunt, *Unworthy Republic*, 194–195.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.51

The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism

Edward E. Baptist

SELECTION	ntroduction: The Heart, 1937
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2014.

Excerpt

American migrants to pick cotton faster and more efficiently than free people. Their practices rapidly transformed the southern states into the dominant force in the global cotton market, and cotton was the world's most widely traded commodity at the time, as it was the key raw material during the first century of the industrial revolution. The returns from cotton monopoly powered the modernization of the rest of the American economy, and by the time of the Civil War, the United States had become the second nation to undergo large-scale industrialization. In fact, slavery's expansion shaped every crucial aspect of the economy and politics of the new nation—not only increasing its power and size, but also, eventually, dividing US politics, differentiating regional identities and interests, and helping to make civil war possible.

The idea that the commodification and suffering and forced labor of African Americans is what made the United States powerful and rich is not an idea that people necessarily are happy to hear. Yet it is the truth. And that truth was the half of the story that survived mostly in the custodianship of those who survived slavery's expansion—whether they had been taken over the hill, or left behind. Forced migration had shaped their lives, and also had shaped what they thought about their lives and the wider history in which they were enmeshed. Even as they struggled to stay alive in the midst of disruption, they created ways to talk about this half untold. But what survivors experienced, analyzed, and named was a slavery that didn't fit the comfortable boxes into which other Americans have been trying to fit it ever since it ended.

I read Lorenzo Ivy's words, and they left me uneasy. I sensed that the true narrative had been left out of history—not only American history in general, but even the history of slavery. I began to look actively for the other half of the story, the one about how slavery constantly grew, changed, and reshaped the modern world. Of how it was both modernizing and modern, and what that meant for the people who lived through its incredible expansion. Once I began to look, I discovered that the traces of the other half were everywhere. The debris of cotton fevers that infected white entrepreneurs and separated man and woman, parent and child, right and left, dusted every set of pre–Civil War letters, newspapers, and court documents. Most of all, the half not told ran like a layer of iridium left by a dinosaur-killing asteroid through every piece of testimony that ex-slaves, such as Lorenzo Ivy, left on the historical record: thousands of stanzas of an epic of forced separations, violence, and new kinds of labor.

For a long time I wasn't sure how to tell the story of this muscular, dynamic process in a single book. The most difficult challenge was simply the fact that the expansion of slavery in many ways shaped the story of everything in the pre–Civil War United States. Enslavers' surviving papers showed calculations of returns from slave sales and purchases as well as the costs of establishing new slave labor camps in the cotton states. Newspapers dripped with speculations in land and people and the commodities they produced; dramatic changes in how people made money and how much they made; and the dramatic violence that accompanied these practices. The accounts of northern merchants and bankers and factory owners showed that they invested in slavery, bought from and sold to slaveholders, and took slices of profit out of slavery's expansion. Scholars and students talked about politics as a battle about states' rights or republican principles, but viewed in a different light the fights can be seen as a struggle between regions about how the rewards of slavery's expansion would be allocated and whether that expansion could continue.

The story seemed too big to fit into one framework. Even Ivy had no idea how to count the chained lines he saw going southwest toward the mountains on the horizon and the vast open spaces beyond. From the 1790s to the 1860s, enslavers moved 1 million people from the old slave states to the new. They went from making no cotton to speak of in 1790 to making almost 2 billion pounds of it in 1860. Stretching out beyond the slave South, the story encompassed not only Washington politicians and voters across the United States but also Connecticut factories, London banks, opium addicts in China, and consumers in East Africa. And could one book do Lorenzo Ivy's insight justice? It would have to avoid the old platitudes, such as the easy temptation to tell the story as a collection of topics—here a chapter on slave resistance, there one on women and slavery, and so on. That kind of abstraction cuts the beating heart out of the story. For the half untold was a narrative, a process of movement and change and suspense. Things happened because of what had been done before them—and what people chose to do in response.

No, this had to be a story, and one couldn't tell it solely from the perspective of powerful actors. True, politicians and planters and bankers shaped policies, the movement of people, and the growing and selling of cotton, and even remade the land itself. But when one takes Lorenzo Ivy's words as a starting point, the whole history of the United States comes walking over the hill behind a line of people in chains. Changes that reshaped the entire world began on the auction block where enslaved migrants stood or in the frontier cotton fields where they toiled. Their individual drama was a struggle to survive. Their reward was to endure a brutal transition to new ways of labor that made them reinvent themselves every day. Enslaved people's creativity enabled their survival, but, stolen from them in the form of ever-growing cotton productivity, their creativity also expanded the slaveholding South at an unprecedented rate. Enslaved African Americans built the modern United States, and indeed the entire modern world, in ways both obvious and hidden.

One day I found a metaphor that helped. It came from the great African-American author Ralph Ellison. You might know his novel Invisible Man. But in the 1950s, Ellison also produced incredible essays. In one of them he wrote, "On the moral level I propose we view the whole of American life as a drama enacted on the body of a Negro giant who, lying trussed up like Gulliver, forms the stage and the scene upon which and within which the action unfolds."3

The image fit the story that Ivy's words raised above the watery surface of buried years. The only problem was that Ellison's image implied a stationary giant. In the old myth, the stationary, quintessentially unchanging plantation was the site and the story of African-American life from the seventeenth century to the twentieth. But Lorenzo Ivy had described a world in motion. After the American Revolution—which seemed at the time to portend slavery's imminent demise—a metastatic transformation and growth of slavery's giant body had begun instead. From the exploitation, commodification, and torture of enslaved people's bodies, enslavers and other free people gained new kinds of modern power. The sweat and blood of the growing system, a network of individuals and families and labor camps that grew bigger with each passing year, fueled massive economic change. Enslaved people, meanwhile, transported and tortured, had to find ways to survive, resist, or endure. And over time the question of their freedom or bondage came to occupy the center of US politics.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Baptist, Edward E. *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism*. New York: Basic Books, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Edward E. Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism* (Basic Books, 2014), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.52

The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty

Jill Norgren

SELECTION	hapter I
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 34–35 · Supplied edition: University of Oklahoma Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Like the Cherokee, the people of Georgia proved bold in taking hold of their future. Soon after the treaty of peace with England, private investors and Georgia officials marked out a determined policy of territorial expansion and land speculation. Elected officials quickly committed the state to a strong states' rights position in political and economic issues. Early in the 1790s, for example, Georgia officials made a forceful showing of states' rights by refusing to acknowledge the jurisdiction of the U.S. Supreme Court in the case of Chisholm v. Georgia, defiantly instructing state attorneys not to participate in arguing the case before the high court.

By the beginning of the nineteenth century white Georgians had made another decision. Most agreed that their prosperity lay in "white cotton" produced "with black labor" on land to be taken from Native Ameri~ans.~~ This committed a majority of Georgians to continue their support of slavery. It also required Georgians to develop a state Indian policy that would both prod and react to federal Indian policy on questions of Native American sovereignty and land rights. As a result, the first two decades of the nineteenth century became a political test: To what length would the people of the state go to obtain the Creek and Cherokee land they desired for settlement, cotton, and the development of roads and canals? In this test, Georgia had to contend not only with the Creek and Cherokee but also with the third party to this conflict, the government of the United States.

In 1800 the United States was a nation of sixteen states with a total population just under 5. million people. Two adrninistrations-those of George Washington and John Adams-had directed the United States along a course of increasingly centralized national power. Washington's administration, led by Secretary of the Treasury Alexander Hamilton, founded a national bank and established a workable scheme for dealing with state and national debt that relied in part on the exchange of western (Indian) land for debt certificates. Efforts had been made through the 1795 Jay Treaty with England and another treaty with Spain to stabilize foreign relations and facilitate foreign commerce. By the end of John Adams's term in 1801 even the stormy relations with France, whose earlier radicalism the President disdained, was on the mend.

Thomas Jefferson took the oath of office on March 4,1801, amid continuing signs of transition. Only months earlier the national capital had been moved from Philadelphia to Washington. Unfinished buildings stood everywhere. More critically, every day political divisions were intensifying between the Federalists, who supported the growth of a strong national economy built on manufacturing, commerce, and agriculture, and the Republicans, who favored the interests of the yeoman farmer over those of the hereditary squire and championed democratic national government meant to be effective but not to overshadow the states. From these and other political visions, early nineteenth-century Americans sought to divine their best individual future and define further the shape of the growing republic.

In this political debate one point was clear: Virtually all Americans believed that westward expansion was essential to the nation's future. The land already possessed by the United States was not thought to be adequate. Certainly the people of Georgia were not alone in the pressure they directed toward members of Congress and the President to establish national policies that would facilitate territorial expansion. But for Georgians, expansion could occur only through the destruction of Cherokee and Creek political sovereignty and land rights. The people of Georgia wanted those Indian nations removed or destroyed but were obliged under the Constitution to let the federal government

negotiate all questions of Indian land cession and sovereignty. Georgians lobbied strenuously for a larger Georgia that would include the lands of the Creek and Cherokee, aware that as they did so, the government in Washington was signing solemn and binding diplomatic documents with Indian nations, including the Cherokee, that recognized Indian sovereignty and national territories.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Norgren, Jill. *The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Jill Norgren, *The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty* (University of Oklahoma Press, 2004), 34–35.

Shortened citation:

Norgren, *The Cherokee Cases*, 34–35.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.53

Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation

John Ehle

SELECTION	highs eee se ea —— ee
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 55–56 · Supplied edition: New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Excerpt

The new federal government wanted to educate the Indians and prepare them for full citizenship, which President Washington believed to be possible. The acculturation of the Indians would be brought about, according to Henry Knox, George Washington's Secretary of War, through the white man's "knowledge of cultivation and the arts."

In 1792 Congress appropriated funds for the agricultural portion of the thrust, and for teaching Indian women the domestic arts. Even at this date, the Cherokees were regarded as model Indians, singled out as a tribe likely to respond to enlightenment, and the federal agents who were sent to the Cherokees were under orders to succeed. They were to persuade the Cherokee men to take up farming instead of hunting and to abandon war; the women must plant cotton wherever practicable and learn to use spinning wheels and looms. Federal agents were ordered to provide tools, seed, instruction.

One year, as soon as the men had gone off on winter hunts, the agents visited the piedmont towns, bringing cotton seed and spinning wheels. The first crop was small, but it served to create a use for the wheels. The women helped to decide where the new looms should be placed, for the large equipment took up much of the space in a Cherokee house. Each village got one.

Susanna that first season harvested little enough cotton. Even so, when Ridge, after several months of raiding and hunting, came home, she had a yard of cloth to show him.

The Pine Log men were amused and delighted with their women's new sport. Next year, however, some of them were embarrassed to reckon the value of their wives' and daughters' cloth, made from a larger cotton crop; it was worth more than the hides they had gathered in the hunt.

Ridge's brothers and sisters looked to him for much of their support. He did the best he could, but remained poor. From time to time he and Susanna Wickett discussed moving to an untenanted valley, a place large enough for sizable crops, one not far from Pine Log where they could grow as much cotton as they pleased, along with grain and grass for cattle and horses and other livestock. Such was the advice of Meigs, the chief federal agent, and of Hicks and Vann. Ridge promised her they could have house servants, slaves—two or three anyway—to help with the work. He would steal the slaves from the whites. He would steal stock and a wagon, too.

Susanna was in favor of moving. She was always in favor of progress. The shamans opposed the new federal efforts, but she told Ridge he had proved he had no fear of white armies or Creek raiders, so why fear his own priests?

The two of them chose a piedmont area through which flowed Oothcaloga Creek. There were scores of beaver dams in the valley, and the beavers had cleared many of the trees. Hundreds of other trees Ridge and Susanna burned, with the help of slaves borrowed from Watts. Watts liked the valley so well he moved into it himself, as did Ridge's brother Oo-watie, who made his own improvements. So later did one of Ridge's sisters and her husband, each family clearing more land by means of fire and building pens and cribs, using slaves Ridge stole from white settlers' fields. Stealing slaves he compared to picking up gold nuggets from the land. Breeding stock was garnered that way, too, and, of course, he traded horses and slaves with Watts and Vann. He stole excellent horses for Vann, who loved fine horses as much as he loved his wives.

Ridge and Susanna themselves dug holes and spread the roots of seven apple trees, the first ever planted in Oothcaloga Valley, and filtered in the dirt, covering, closing over the roots, the two of them joyfully feeling the rich earth in their hands. The dirt, the two-room cabin, the valley, the animals here, even the beaver and deer and wolf and dog were kin.

Every day a white woman spent on the frontier was dangerous for her, her children, her husband, and their possessions. Constantly she was conscious of the danger of Indians.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ehle, John. *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation*. New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Footnote citation:

John Ehle, *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation* (New York: Doubleday, 1988), 55–56.

Shortened citation:

Ehle, *Trail of Tears*, 55–56.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.54

Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian

Michael Paul Rogin

SELECTION	FATHERS AND. CHILDREN
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 254–255 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Excerpt

Jackson's presidential campaigns in 1824 and 1828 subordinated the issues dividing America—tariff, internal improvements, strict construction, and federal power—to two overriding concerns: national defense and "reform." Foreign affairs dominated America in the early national period. As the attention of the nation shifted to domestic matters, General Jackson placed himself above internal political conflict. He tried to unify the country around its past. This project required him, first of all, to shed his reputation for personal violence. Elected to the Senate in 1823, Jackson reestablished cordial relations with Senator Thomas Hart Benton, General Winfield Scott, and other old antagonists. He wrote a Nashville friend, "This has destroyed the stronghold of my enemies who denounced me as a man of revengefull Temper and of great rashness. I am told the opinion of those whose minds were prepared to see me with a Tomahawk in one hand, and a scalping knife in the other has greatly changed." Jackson's successes in Horseshoe Bend, New Orleans, and Florida elevated him above identification with Indian violence, they also freed him from doctrinaire commitments on divisive political issues. Although Jackson called himself an Old Republican, he had little loyalty to strict construction or states rights in the abstract. Jackson had opposed federal power in the cause of expansion; now he identified expansion with American nationalism. He feared that if "the despotism of urope" gained "a foothold upon the Terra firma of the American continent..., their foreign bayonets might make an attempt to pierce us in the south and west." Urging

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rogin, Michael Paul. *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Paul Rogin, *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1975), 254–255.

Shortened citation:

Rogin, *Fathers and Children*, 254–255.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.55

American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era

Ronald N. Satz

SELECTION	American Indian Policy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 54–55 · Supplied edition: University of Oklahoma Press, 2002.

Excerpt

The United States in the Jacksonian era increasingly became a market-focused society dominated by "expectant capitalists" ea¬ ger to remove all impediments to rapid exploitation of its natural resources. The federal government was under unremitting pres¬ sure to open new lands to settlement and purchase. The presence of Indian title in states and territories of the Union only frustrated the aspirations of settlers and speculators, while posing constitu¬ tional questions of a disruptive nature. Whether they were Demo¬ crats or Whigs in politics, expectant capitalists viewed allodial ownership of land as superior to Indian title and could little afford to sympathize with Indian claims to an imperium in imperio. Men of all political persuasions sought the immense tracts of valuable top soil, virgin lumber, and mineral reserves located in Indian country within the United States.4

The presence of Indian title within states and territories of the Union frequently acted as a brake on the economic and political development of adjacent areas. Many settlers were reluctant to farm or make improvements on land near Indian country for they feared depredations as well as the uncertainty of their claims. Some state and territorial legislatures were hesitant to organize new county governments and provide land surveys near Indian areas for similar reasons. Residents of states and territories con¬ taining Indian title continuously petitioned their representatives in Congress for its extinguishment, and congressmen worked hard for such measures. The propinquity of frontier settlements to hos¬ tile tribes meant continual expenditures by both the state and the federal government to protect the lives of American citizens. For all of these reasons, Indian removal became an acceptable and desirable policy evoking little opposition from large sectors of the American people during the Jacksonian era.

Another important reason for growing acceptance of the re¬ moval policy was the lack of any suitable alternatives. The Ameri¬ can Board, Jackson's political adversaries, and numerous other supporters of the southern Indians argued that the tribes were independent nations with the sole and exclusive right to the prop¬ erty and government of the territories they occupied under treaty stipulations. The board and its allies agreed with Chief Justice Marshall that a degree of independence within the context of the surrounding white society was legally and politically possible as well as morally desirable. Advocates of removal, on the other hand, maintained that the presence of Indian enclaves within the United States would necessitate the presence of sizable military forces to protect Indians from white intruders and whites from Indian depredations. They warned that such conditions would impede economic development, increase the possibility of feder¬ al-state conflict, and endanger the existence of the Union.4

As Americans became increasingly anxious to justify their dis¬ possession of the Indians, they quickly discovered that Jackson's removal policy, like the civilization program of earlier decades, provided them with a convenient humanitarian rationale. By equating removal with the preservation and civilization of the Indians, as Jackson did, they could stand on high moral ground while relieving the Indians of their land east of the Mississippi River. No presidential administration in the 1830s or '40s refuted Jackson's logic or Indian policy. Francis Scott Key, author of "The

Star-Spangled Banner" and a Democrat from Maryland, suc¬ cinctly stated the Jacksonian position when he remarked that the only way to save the Indians from the vices of white society while holding out to them its benefits was to "buy their lands & send them off." Many of the strongest opponents of removal, like the Reverend Samuel A. Worcester, resigned themselves to the policy after they witnessed the demoralization of the stragglers as emi¬ gration began in the early 1830s and continued throughout the ensuing decade. The opposition of missionary groups like the American Board also weakened when, amid fierce competition for educational annuities for emigrant tribes,

the government assured the societies that it would help them reestablish their missions and schools in the trans-Mississippi West.4

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Satz, Ronald N. *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Ronald N. Satz, *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era* (University of Oklahoma Press, 2002), 54–55.

Shortened citation:

Satz, *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era*, 54–55.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.56

Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab

Steve Inskeep

SELECTION	Ten: Let Me See You as I Pass
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Excerpt

Alabama, Jackson knew, was about to become a separate territory as Mississippi became a state. Did the new president need a surveyor for the new territory? Jackson suggested one. John Coffee would be an excellent choice for northern Alabama, the area that included Muscle Shoals.

In a letter to Coffee six weeks later, Jackson spoke of the new country not as a bulwark of defense but as a business opportunity:

I wrote to Genl Parker... and farther added, that I was determined, to engage in purchasing or entering lands for any Individual or company, on the following terms... that I would... purchase & enter the amount, at my own expence, having one third of the land so purchased or entered.

It appeared that Jackson was aspiring to help speculators buy land, expecting to receive a share of the real estate in return.

He could not do this right away. It would take time for President Madison's administration to assume formal possession of the Cherokee land, survey it, and establish the mechanisms to auction it. But Jackson found a way to move more swiftly than the government. Since Indians remained on the land for the time being, he dealt directly with Cherokees to take temporary ownership of a piece of prime real estate. It was the great plantation once operated by John Melton, the reputed river pirate at Muscle Shoals.

Melton had recently died, leaving his half-Cherokee son holding the plantation, and it was from the son that Jackson and a partner bought the right to use it. Jackson was free to exploit it until federal surveyors got around to subdividing it two years later. Jackson's overseer moved into Melton's old house and used about sixty enslaved people to grow crops of cotton and corn. The writer Anne Royall visited the plantation in 1818; she described walking a field "white with cotton and alive with negroes," on high ground that seemed "suspended between heaven and earth," with a view of islands in the river that seemed like "floating meadows." The writer noticed signs of pain along with the beauty. A white boatman informed her that he had lost his Cherokee wife. When the Cherokee land cession was announced, his wife abruptly joined a group of Cherokees going to live in the west. Although as a mixed couple they probably could have remained together, she no longer wanted to stay, and he was not willing to go. The boatman chased her down the river in a canoe, and gave her a final tearful embrace.

Now and again Andrew Jackson stopped by Melton's Bluff, and his letters afterward were uncharacteristically happy. "I was at the Bluff Two days & nights, Major Hutchings deserves a Meddle," he said of his overseer. "He has the finist Prospect of a good crop I ever saw, his cotton far excels any crop I have seen." The soil and climate of the Tennessee Valley proved ideal for growing cotton, and world demand for cotton was soaring.

A few calculations suggest what this meant for Jackson. To make a profit, after feeding their slaves and shipping their crops to market, southern planters generally needed to sell cotton for 10–15 cents a pound. During the war cotton dropped below 12 cents, and sometimes could not be sold at all. But when peace returned, prices climbed. Cotton reached 32 cents by late 1816. The price in some cities hit 35 cents in July 1817, the month that Jackson described his

crop worth a medal.

Tennessee Valley soil could produce far more pounds of cotton per acre than land farther east. While it is not known how many acres were under cotton cultivation at Melton's Bluff that year, the sixty field hands could probably have picked six hundred acres at an absolute minimum. A conservative estimate gives a sense of the bounty: even if only three hundred of the acres were used for cotton, even if yields per acre were somewhat less than the maximum, and even if Jackson sold for somewhat less than the peak price, the profit for Jackson and his overseer from that single year's cotton crop, on that single plantation, would have exceeded $35,000, which in 1817 was an income for a prince. President Monroe's salary was $25,000. Jackson was wealthy before 1817 in terms of property, but like many westerners he was cash-poor. Commanding troops in 1814, he'd scribbled a letter to his friend James Jackson in Nashville, asking him to send $300 for spending money, though he wasn't sure he had it on account. "If I have not that sum in the Bank," Jackson added, "you... must endorse for me." From 1817 onward, the land and the cotton of the Tennessee Valley promised to transform his financial situation. It was in 1819 that Andrew and Rachel Jackson gave up living in their two-story log house at the Hermitage. They began building the mansion that, with expansions and renovations over many years, would grow into the magnificent home that still stands today, with a white colonnaded front that awed approaching visitors. The old log house was cut down to a single floor and converted into slave quarters.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Inskeep, Steve. *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab*. New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Steve Inskeep, *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab* (New York: Penguin Press, 2015), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Inskeep, *Jacksonland*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.57

How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier

Stuart Banner

SELECTION	How the Indians Lost Their Land
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 206–207 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

The other removal debate was about removal's wisdom. The Indians had the legal right to stay where they were, but was that a right they should exercise? Or would it be in their best interest to exchange their land for new land west of the Mississippi?

Some of the arguments advanced by the white proponents of removal were of course grounded in the interests of white settlers, not Indians.

Government officials often noted that the pattern of Indian land pur¬ chasing had produced a jagged frontier, with scattered white settle¬ ments separated by intervening Indian territory. Defense against Indian attack, they repeatedly pointed out, would be far simpler and less ex¬ pensive if whites and Indians each occupied a single contiguous terri¬ tory, the two separated by a single line. Some of the other arguments in favor of removal were equally self-serving. Senator Thomas Buck Reed of Mississippi complained that "the Indian territory in Mississippi af¬ fords a complete sanctuary for debtors and vagabonds and criminals from every part of the Union." Richard Henry Wilde of Georgia thought removal appropriate simply because, in his view, whites would do better things with the land. "Are we to check the human course of happiness," he asked, "obstruct the march of science—stay the works of art, and stop the arm of industry, because they will efface in their progress the wigwam of the red hunter, and put out forever the council fire of his tribe?" Some supporters of removal made no pretense of looking out for the Indians. They were interested only in promoting white settlement.

Other proponents of removal claimed to be friends of the Indian, but made arguments so patently disingenuous as to undermine the claim. When the General Assembly of Indiana, for example, sent a memorial to Congress praying that the federal government extinguish the Indian ti¬ tle of the two tribes remaining within the state, the Assembly suggested that the Indians would find the territory west of the Mississippi "so much better adapted to their wants and their habits" than Indiana, "where they now acquire but a precarious and scanty subsistence." One may wonder whether the Indiana Assembly would have been as solici¬ tous of the Indians' well-being had the Indians not occupied land cov¬ eted by the state's white residents. On the floor of the Senate, John Elliott of Georgia provided a range of ostensibly humanitarian reasons the Indians ought to move west, but then undercut his own posture when, evidently warming to his subject, he began rhapsodizing over how much money the government would take in from selling all that land to settlers.

With all this thinly disguised self-interest floating around, it is per¬ haps easy to be cynical about the motives of all the white proponents of removal. No doubt many of those who argued for removal were not nearly as interested in the welfare of the Indians as they claimed to be. And given what we know, with the benefit of hindsight, about the long¬ term consequences of removal, it is easy to suspect that those conse¬ quences were intended by the whites who urged the Indians to move west. But in the 1820s and 1830s, as in all periods of American history, whites were not as monolithic in their motives or their opinions with respect to Indians as we sometimes implicitly accuse them of being. There were many white Americans who advocated removal because they genuinely believed it was in the best interests of the Indians.

Proponents of removal began with the obvious truth that contact with white settlers had always proven disastrous for the Indians. "If ever one tribe of Indians has flourished" in close proximity to settlers, observed the Baptist

missionary Isaac McCoy, “we will hope that the like may happen again. But if such an event has never occurred, we may con¬ fidently assure ourselves that it never will.” Wherever whites settled in large numbers, most of the Indians eventually died or moved away. Af¬ ter two hundred years of such encounters, some tribes had been driven to extinction, and others were nearly there. Everyone knew that the white population of the United States was constantly increasing and that white settlement was pushing steadily westward. Barring a dramatic change in the federal government’s Indian policy, the Indians’ future looked dismal. James Barbour, the secretary of war under President John Quincy Adams, was just one of many who recognized the looming catas¬ trophe. “Shall we go on quietly in a course, which, judging from the past, threatens their extinction?” he asked in a thoughtful 1826 memo¬ randum recommending removal. Or was there something the govern¬ ment could do to save the Indians?[28]

Author's Notes

28. Isaac McCoy, Remarks on the Practicability of Indian Reform, Embracing Their Colonization (Boston: Lincoln and Edmands, 1827), 25; Register of Debates, 19th Cong., 1st Sess. (1826), App. 40.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Banner, Stuart. *How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Stuart Banner, *How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005), 206–207.

Shortened citation:

Banner, *How the Indians Lost Their Land*, 206–207.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.58

The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears

Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green

SELECTION	INDIAN REMOVAL POLICY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Viking, 2007.

Excerpt

Andrew Jackson became a central figure in this threatening coalition. He had commanded the army that defeated the Red Stick Creeks in 1814, and later that year he had dictated a peace treaty that forced the Creek Nation to surrender some twenty million acres of land in Alabama and Georgia. During the next few years the government appointed him to negotiate four additional treaties with the southern Indian nations. Jackson did not like the work. Mostly he did not like bargaining with Indians. It meant that he had to sit and listen to them refuse his demands and make counterproposals. The tribes were not sovereign, he claimed, and to pretend that they were by negotiating treaties with them was "absurd." They were within the boundaries of the United States, and the government should treat them as subjects, not as sovereigns. Negotiating treaties with the tribes might have made sense in the old days when they were strong and the United States was weak, but "circumstances have entirely changed," he wrote President James Monroe early in 1817, and "the arm of government [is] sufficiently strong to carry [a new policy] into execution." Denying the right of the tribes to land ownership as well as their sovereignty, Jackson argued that Congress should simply enact legislation to take their land.

Jackson did not invent the scheme to relocate Indians to the country west of the Mississippi River, but he was recommending it in his capacity as negotiator of treaties with southern Indians. The idea came to Thomas Jefferson in 1803, shortly after the purchase of Louisiana, and Return J. Meigs, agent to the Cherokee Nation, raised it with some of the Nation's leaders the next year. In 1809 Jefferson, at Meigs's recommendation, suggested to a delegation of Cherokees in Washington that they should give serious consideration to relocating in the West. Viewing this as an opportunity to escape from the problem of encroachment and harassment by frontier Americans, a few Cherokees accepted the idea and moved to land north of the Arkansas River. But the idea of fleeing to the West attracted no more than a thousand Cherokees, despite Meigs's repeated efforts to convince them. Following the interlude of the War of 1812, the government renewed its efforts to acquire land from the Cherokee Nation, and Jackson, McMinn, and Meigs encouraged the Cherokees to exchange their lands in the East for a new country in the West. This time, two thousand went. Treaties with the Choctaw Nation in 1820 and the Creek Nation in 1826 contained similar suggestions, but like the Cherokees they were not enthusiastic about removal and only small numbers of people moved.

While nearly all in government agreed that the United States needed to acquire more land from the Indian tribes to accommodate its growing population and booming economy, there was no agreement on how they should do it. In 1818, the House Committee on Public Lands rejected Jackson's suggestion of using the power of eminent domain to condemn Indian land for public use, stating that the treaty system was well established and should be continued. That same year Congress defeated a bill to appropriate money to pay for the removal of Indians to the West on the grounds that U.S. policy was to "civilize" the Indians where they were. Those who wished to migrate would have to go as individuals and pay their own way. In 1819 Congress reaffirmed its dedication to "civilization" with the passage of a law that appropriated ten thousand dollars per year to subsidize the "civilization" efforts of mission groups. In the next five years, this money financed the opening of twenty-one new schools in Indian country.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Perdue, Theda, and Michael D. Green. *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears*. Penguin Library of American Indian History. New York: Viking, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green, *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears* (Viking, 2007), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Green, *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.59

Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom

Tiya Miles

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of California Press, 2005.

Excerpt

The leaders of this proremoval group were Major Ridge, his son John Ridge, and his nephews, Elias Boudinot and Stand Watie, friends and business partners of Shoe Boots. As internal dissension grew among Cherokees, the United States and the state of Georgia increased their pressure. In 1834 the federal government ceased payment of monies to the Cherokees that were their right by treaty, and in 1835 the state of Georgia enlisted the Georgia Guard to seize the Cherokee printing press and thus disable the publication of the Cherokee Phoenix. In the autumn of 1835, U.S. o‹cials took advantage of the opportunity that Cherokee discord presented. They met with members of the minority faction and their supporters, numbering almost two hundred in all, in the capital town of New Echota. There the members of this faction, that came to be known as the Treaty Party, signed the Treaty of New Echota, a document that sanctioned Cherokee removal in accordance with the Indian Removal Act and established that removal must occur within two years of the treaty's ratification. The Treaty of New Echota was blatantly fraudulent, since it bypassed the recognized channels of Cherokee government and lacked the support of the majority of the Cherokee population, numbering almost sixteen thousand. However, despite vehement Cherokee protests that included a petition of fifteen thousand signatures, the treaty was ratified by the U.S. Congress in 1836. Most Cherokees refused to believe that this was their fate: to be moved West, the direction that signified darkness and death in Cherokee culture, and to be forced into an unknown land against their will. For the next two years the majority of Cherokees continued to fight removal through political protest and the defiant act of living in their homeland. In 1838, when the designated two-year period had ended, they were pressed to abandon that land by force of arms.

If slavery is the monumental tragedy of African American experience and the trauma of continual return in the memory of black people, then removal plays the same role in American Indian experience. The theft and destruction of lives, lands, and cultures link these events as holocausts, and in the specific context of Cherokee history, slavery and removal are intimately connected. The expulsion of Cherokee people cleared the way for the expansion of American slavery into those abandoned lands; the expansion of slavery then contributed to the rapid growth of cotton production that would dramatically boost the U.S. economy. At the same time, the presence of black slaves during removal made it possible for their Cherokee masters to survive the ordeal and to rebuild e‹ciently in the West. The institution of American slavery depended on Cherokee removal, even as the "success" of removal depended on slavery. The experience of Elizabeth Shoeboots and her family members, then, for whom slavery and removal were conjoined forces, in fact reflects a broader phenomenon. Ironically, or perhaps not, this historical moment, which so clearly revealed the interdependence of white supremacist systems, marked a negative turning point in relations between blacks and Cherokees. Removal would open a seemingly unbridgeable gulf between Cherokees and blacks because it exacerbated preexisting tensions and prejudices even while eliminating the historical bases of communication and negotiation.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Miles, Tiya. *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom*. 2nd ed. Oakland: University of California Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Tiya Miles, *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom* (University of California Press, 2005), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Miles, *Ties That Bind*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.60

Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War

A. J. Langguth

SELECTION	RIVEN WEST
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 160–161 · Supplied edition: Simon & Schuster, 2010.

Excerpt

Learning that the Cherokees intended to sue them, the Georgians found a harsh new way to show their scorn for the federal courts. In September 1830, a Georgia judge had found a Cherokee named George Corn Tassel guilty of murdering another Indian in Cherokee territory and sentenced him to be hanged. Behind the scenes, Wirt was having more success than he had found with Governor Gilmer. On the question of jurisdiction, he sounded out Chief Justice John Marshall through a mutual friend and learned that Marshall sided with the Indians. In fact, Marshall was already on record. In an 1823 case, Johnson v. McIntosh, he had ruled that Indians' rights were not a question of morality or fairness but firmly based in American law. Drawing on that reassurance, Wirt filed a writ to ask the U.S. ground that the Cherokees, not Georgia, had jurisdiction in his case. On December 12, 1830, Justice Marshall, acting for his Court, signed an order requiring the state of Georgia to appear in Washington to show cause why a writ of error should not be issued that would save Tassel from the gallows.
The Georgia legislature claimed that Marshall's order was "a flagrant violation of her rights" and not only instructed the governor and every other state official to ignore it but told the local country sheriff to expedite Tassel's execution. On Christmas Day, Tassel was driven to the scaffold sitting on his own coffin. Without a tremor, he spoke calmly to a crowd of spectators, including five hundred Indians. Fearing an outburst from protesters, the state had provided a heavy contingent of guards, but the Indians watched stoically as Tassel was hanged, and then they left quietly. In Washington, Marshall and his colleagues took note that since Jackson refused to enforce their rulings, they carried no weight. And yet Wirt decided to press on. He advised the Cherokees to seek an injunction that would stop Georgia from enforcing its code of punitive restrictions against them.

While resistance was moving forward in the courts, Jackson had worked personally to speed the process of clearing the Indian land. Four days after he signed the removal law, his office sent word that he and Secretary of War Eaton would be traveling to Tennessee later in the summer and wished to meet with chiefs from the affected territory. The Cherokees were the largest in numbers, but removal also involved remnants of other southeastern tribes. Chickasaw delegates showed up at Eaton's house in Franklin, Tennessee, on August 11, 1830. Since the Louisiana Purchase twentyseven years earlier, the United States had signed three treaties with the tribe to acquire tracts of their land in upper Mississippi, Alabama, and southern Tennessee.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Langguth, A. J. *Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2010.

Footnote citation:

A. J. Langguth, *Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War* (Simon & Schuster, 2010), 160–161.

Shortened citation:

Langguth, *Driven West*, 160–161.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.61

Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory

Claudio Saunt

SELECTION	UNWORTHY REPUBLIC
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 162–163 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Excerpt

State—a community." "Within their territory," he continued, "they possess the powers of self-government." Moreover, their rights were guaranteed by treaties, which remained the "Supreme law of the Land" and were superior to the laws of Georgia. The assertion that the treaties were somehow not treaties was "without the slightest foundation." Sergeant's argument was not particularly original, for the Cherokees had made it often on the pages of the Cherokee Phoenix and had presented it to Congress in two separate memorials in 1830. Sergeant concluded by quoting Chief Justice John Marshall's own language from The Cherokee Nation v. The State of Georgia. "Indian tribes," Marshall had said, were "domestic, dependent nations" and in "a state of pupilage." Their relation with the United States, he had declared, resembled "that of a ward to a guardian." But what sovereign rights did they retain as "domestic, dependent nations'? Knowing that Marshall was sympathetic to the Cherokees' cause, Sergeant now invited the chief justice to elaborate on the paternalistic metaphor he had formulated in the previous year. Writing for the majority, Marshall handed down the decision on March 3, 1832.

"The Indian nations," he allowed, "had always been considered as distinct, independent political communities, retaining their original natural rights, as the undisputed possessors of the soil, from time immemorial." They were the "weaker power," he admitted, but in associating themselves with the stronger, they had not surrendered their independence. Rather, the Cherokee Nation occupied its own territory in which the laws of Georgia had no force, and Georgia citizens had no right to enter without permission from the Cherokees themselves. Georgia's laws targeting the Cherokees, he declared, were "repugnant to the constitution, laws, and treaties of the United States."3 Cherokees greeted the decision with jubilation. "It was trumpeted forth among the Indians," reported one federal agent, who was dismayed by the "rejoicing, yelling and whooping in every direction." "It is glorious news," celebrated Elias Boudinot from Boston, where he was on a speaking tour with John Ridge. "The question is for ever settled as to who is right and who is wrong," he wrote, observing that the struggle was now between the federal government and the State of Georgia. Ridge, for his part, described the victory as a rebirth.

"Since the decision of the Supreme Court," he wrote, "I feel greatly revived—a new man and I feel independent."® Worcester v. Georgia represented a complete legal victory for the Cherokees, but the consequences were far from clear. "We shall see how strong the links are to the chain that connect [sic] the states to the Federal Union," Ridge observed. Two days after Marshall handed down his stunning decision, John Quincy Adams, four years past his presidency and now serving as a representative from Massachusetts, introduced a petition to the House from the citizens of New York City asking Congress to "enforce the observance of the laws of the Union" and "vindicate the constitutional authority of the Federal Government" by protecting the Cherokee Nation. 'The memorial touched off a fiery debate. Representative Augustin Clayton of Georgia, who as a state judge two years earlier had sentenced the Cherokee George Tassel to death, took the floor to proclaim that Marshall's decision would not be executed "till Georgia was made a howling wilderness." His state, he warned, "only wanted the application of a match to

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saunt, Claudio. *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Claudio Saunt, *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory* (W. W. Norton, 2020), 162–163.

Shortened citation:

Saunt, *Unworthy Republic*, 162–163.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.62

Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes

Gerard N. Magliocca

SELECTION	hapter Three
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 44–45 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Excerpt

Cherokee independence." Only at the end did the chief justice add a few paragraphs about the missionaries' plight." In that brief analysis, though, he managed to hold all of the Cherokee Codes unconstitutional. Moreover, the Court used this as a third ground for reversal after concluding that the state statutes were preempted by federal law and by treaties with the Tribe." Despite this extraordinary effort to reach the constitutional issues, Marshali claimed that he had no choice because "those who fill the judicial department have no discretion in selecting the subjects to be brought before them." This statement was false. The Court had at least three ways to avoid declaring that the Georgia laws were unconstitutional. For one thing, the petitioners did not get the lower court record properly certified—a pleading defect that could well have led to a dismissal of the suit if the Court was so inclined.® Next, the 1802 compact between the United States and Georgia stated that no person could enter Cherokee land without a federal license.® By adding conditions for entry, the State was impeding federal policy and violating the compact." Third, the Treaty of Hopewell said the Cherokees were "under the protection of the United States, and of no other sovereign whatsoever" and had the right to punish trespassers "as they might think proper."" This language did not contemplate a State playing a role in regulating the Tribe, and thus the Court could also have rested its judgment on that ground. All of this leads to an important point—there is no doubt that the conclusion in Worcester was correct. The problem was how the Court got there. ¥ Chief Justice Marshall did not stop with these reasons because such a narrow holding would not have had an impact on the broader constitutional debate. The Court wanted to turn public opinion against the Removal Act, not just against the Cherokee Codes. Moreover, Marshall wanted to counter the Jacksonian argument that the Tribes had no sovereign rights and that the States should have the primary role in setting Native American policy. As the Court stated, "The Cherokees acknowledge themselves to be under the protection of the United States, and of no other power. Protection does notimply the destruc tion of the protected.""

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Magliocca, Gerard N. *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Gerard N. Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes* (University Press of Kansas, 2007), 44–45.

Shortened citation:

Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution*, 44–45.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.63

The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty

Jill Norgren

SELECTION	The Test of Cherokee Legal Rights Begins
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 97–98 · Supplied edition: University of Oklahoma Press, 2004.

Excerpt

The Tassels appeal gave the Georgia judiciary an opportunity to join forces with the state legislature and the governor in opposing

Cherokee sovereignty. The judges did not hesitate to lend judicial approval to the legislature's assertion of civil and criminal jurisdiction. The impact of this decision was far-reaching. The Cherokee were ridiculed, while states' rights were fully endorsed at the expense of both the Cherokee and the United States. By holding the state jurisdiction laws valid, the Georgia court gave fresh encouragement to the state legislature and executive, which had by then made a firm commitment to a policy of denationalizing or removing the Cherokee and other southern Indian nations. Finally, the state court opinion found favor well beyond the boundaries of Georgia. For decades after 1830 the Tassels opinion was widely cited by state judges in support of the principle that statehood automatically conferred full jurisdiction over Indian nation^.^'

Wirt had been waiting for the outcome of Tassels and several other similar prosecutions. When John Ross notified him that the Georgia court had upheld the jurisdiction law, Wirt immediately appealed to the U.S. Supreme Court for a writ of error under the Court's increasingly contested Section 25 powers (federal judicial power to review state court or state legislative decisions that might violate the U.S. Constitution). On December 12, 1830, Chief Justice Marshal1 granted the writ and ordered Georgia to appear before the Supreme court on "the second Monday in January next... to show cause... why judgement rendered against the said Georgia in said writ of error mentioned should not be corrected...."28 AS they had years earlier in the Chisholm case, Georgia officials refused to be summoned to the national court. The state would not submit to federal judicial review of its laws. Defiant state leaders announced that "interference by the chief justice of the U. States, in the administration of the criminal laws of this state... [was] a flagrant violation of her rights."29 Ten days after Marshall granted the writ, Georgia representatives voted to carry out George Tassels's sentence of death by hanging. Georgia executed Tassels on December 24,1830.

John Ross calmly reported to Wirt on the actions of the rebellious state. The execution mooted the appeal to the Supreme Court and cost the Cherokee and the high court dearly: Tassels lost his life; for the necessary state court appeal, the Cherokee paid at least a thousand dollars in fees to Underwood and Harris; and Marshal1 and his court were embarrassed by Georgia's defiance and so angered states' rights supporters by granting the writ of error that they once again moved (unsuccessfully) for the repeal of the Supreme Court's Section 25 appellate jurisdiction. In contrast, for Georgia there was nothing but victory. The Tassels case gave Georgia justices the opportunity to write an opinion approving the extension of state rule over the Cherokee and gave state political officials the occasion to act on this authority in a dramatic way.

Whatever the cost, however, Ross and the rest of the Cherokee leadership stood fast in their commitment to bringing a great legal test of rights before the U.S. Supreme Court. Wirt was instructed to resume preparations for the original jurisdiction case, which by then had been planned for months. In the face of President Jackson's opposition to Indian sovereignty and steadily increasing popularity, lesser men and women might have withdrawn from the legal arena. The Cherokee did not. It is the ultimate irony that the Cherokee, only recently described by the Tassels court as a people "incapable of complying with the obligations which the laws of civilized society imposed," maintained their

faith in the rule of law-even an enemy's law-and its promise of justice.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Norgren, Jill. *The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Jill Norgren, *The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty* (University of Oklahoma Press, 2004), 97–98.

Shortened citation:

Norgren, *The Cherokee Cases*, 97–98.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.64

Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation

John Ehle

SELECTION	The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 241–242 · Supplied edition: New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Excerpt

She and Major Ridge discussed such reports day and night. They learned of the speech of dear Congressman Everett, which had made many of the chiefs in the gallery weep. Following his defeat, all the chiefs of the several tribes met at Brown's and sought to find another savior or solution to their problems, to find an escape.

On Sunday morning of March 6, 1831, they came together at Brown's for a sermon in English given by a native Indian pastor. The men fasted all day, and that evening at Gadsby's Hotel they held another service, the chiefs of all the tribes—Christians and otherwise—together begging God to help them, to guide them.

Susanna and the Major, Boudinot, Worcester, and John and Lewis Ross followed the rise and fall of action as the public, the press, and Congress debated Indian matters. They also watched the Supreme Court's activities. That month Mr. Wirt appeared before the court, along with another Philadelphia lawyer, John Sergeant. Their argument read, in part: who descend from the noble race that were once the lords of these extensive forests—men worthy to associate with the "lion," who, in their own language, "walks upon the mountain tops." They fought side by side with our present chief magistrate, and received his personal thanks for their gallantry and bravery.

On July 18, 1831, Chief Justice Marshall was to read the court's opinion of the constitutionality of the recent Georgian legislation. The chief justice was old, his body and voice feeble, and John Ridge had to strain to hear him. For almost half an hour, the chief justice expressed his sympathies for the Cherokees. He admitted that he personally was moved by their appeal. The court had been unable to accept, however, their claim to hold the status of a foreign nation. They were not that. They were a separate state, admittedly. The court found them to be "'a domestic, dependent nation"; he said this domestic, dependent nation was "in a state of pupilage." The court found that it had no jurisdiction over a domestic, dependent nation.

In this opinion Mr. Wirt had been struck down by his old friend. The defeat was galling, the plight of the Indians ever more desperate. Both the Supreme Court and Congress had voted against the Cherokees, and John Ridge's delegation now sought a new meeting with the President, the one person who could help them. John wrote Boudinot a long letter about this meeting, when it took place.

Jackson was friendly. He received the group hospitably in the White House drawing room, recalled his campaigns with the Cherokees against the rebellious young Creeks and the Seminoles. He was inclined to favor the Cherokees, he assured John and his associates; he had a "disposition to do them good."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ehle, John. *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation*. New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Footnote citation:

John Ehle, *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation* (New York: Doubleday, 1988), 241–242.

Shortened citation:

Ehle, *Trail of Tears*, 241–242.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.65

The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis

Richard E. Ellis

SELECTION	Andrew Jackson, States' Rights, and Majority Rule
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 28–29 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

The Cherokee and Creek, on the other hand, refused to give their consent. The Cherokee in particular, whose very real accomplishments—establishing a nation, writing a constitution, and forging a government—the Jackson administration chose to ignore, had a fairly sophisticated understanding of how the American political and legal process worked, and decided to make a fight of it. They received strong support from religious groups and other public figures concerned with the humanitarian implications of Jackson's removal policy. Jackson's opponents stressed the seamy side of his removal policy: the force, deception, corruption, and threats used to obtain land cession treaties from the Indians. And they asked the relevant and difficult to answer question of what guarantees the Indians had that they would be secure on the land they moved to west of the Mississippi. Theodore Frelinghuysen of New Jersey and Pelig Sprague of Maine led the unsuccessful fight against the removal bill in Congress, while the Boston-based American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions under the leadership of Jeremiah Evarts offered financial support and advice and took the Indians' case to the public.

Politics quickly became involved. Humanitarian concern for the plight of the Indians and anti-removal sentiment were greatest in New England, the part of the country in which Jackson had the least political support. But it also had strong appeal to religious groups, especially Quakers, in New York, New Jersey, Pennsylvania, and Ohio. During the fight over the removal bill, a number of Jackson men from Ohio and Pennsylvania voted negatively because of the measure's unpopularity with their constituents. This immediately attracted the attention of Jackson's two leading opponents, Daniel Webster and Henry Clay. Clay, who as John Quincy Adams's secretary of state, had been indifferent to the fate of the Indians, was determined to oppose Jackson in the election of 1832. To have any chance of winning he had to carry New York and Pennsylvania. To this end Clay decided to make a campaign issue out of the Indian question. "Its flagitious character, the disgrace which it would bring upon our name and nation," he wrote to a political ally, "and its enormous expense, should be spread fully before the people." Moreover, by linking it up with Jackson's stand on internal improvements and the President's concern for states' rights, it could be turned into a major point of debate.

Meanwhile, the discovery of gold on Cherokee lands made Georgians more eager than ever to exercise control over what they claimed was state land and over those who lived on this land. Confident of Jackson's support, the state in

1829 adopted several harsh and cruel measures extending its authority over the Indians, invalidating all laws adopted by the Indians for their own governance, dividing up the land claimed by the Indians and providing for the sale of large parts of it, denying to the Indians the right to testify in cases involving white persons, and prohibiting any person or group from trying to prevent the Indians from emigrating from the state.[49]

Having failed to get support from Congress, the Indians were advised to take their cause to the Supreme Court. To aid them, William Wirt, a former United States attorney general under James Monroe, was induced to become their chief legal adviser. Totally convinced of the justice of their cause, Wirt became a highly effective propagandist on their behalf. His main problem, however, was how to create a meaningful test case. After giving the matter careful consideration, Wirt decided to by-pass the Georgia state courts and the federal circuit court and go directly to the Supreme Court and file an original bill of equity on behalf of the Cherokee as a foreign nation whose treaty rights had been violated and request an injunction against the state of Georgia restraining it from enforcing its laws against the

Indians.[50]

Georgia refused to cooperate. The state's governor, George Gilmer, rejected a request from Wirt for help in establishing a test case. In fact he denounced the idea that the Supreme Court had any authority in the matter at all. "Your suggestion," he wrote to Wirt, is "evidence of the state of the contest in which the advocates of power, are exerting themselves to increase the authority of the departments of the general government, whilst the friends of liberty and the rights of the people are in opposition, endeavoring to sustain the sovereignty of the state."[51]

Georgia's denial of the Supreme Court's authority received concrete illustration in late December 1830. A Cherokee Indian by the name of Corn Tassels was captured, tried, convicted, and sentenced to hang for the murder of another Indian in Indian territory, by a Georgia court. The decision was appealed to the United States Supreme Court on the basis of the illegality of the state's laws, and a writ of error was granted for the purpose of bringing the case before the federal courts. Georgia ignored the order and executed Corn Tassels. Moreover, the governor and the legislature publicly vowed to resist, with force if necessary, any attempt to prevent the execution of the state's criminal laws.[52]

Author's Notes

49. Register of Debates, 22:2, 690-717; Wilson (ed.), The Papers of John C. Calhoun, XII, 96-101; Washington Globe, 28 Feb. 1833; U.S. Telegraph (Washington, D.C.), 21 Feb. 1833; Daily Albany Argus, 28 Feb., 5, 6 March 1833; Courier and Enquirer (New York), 23 March 1833. See also Wiltse, Calhoun, II, 191-92; Benton, Thirty Years' View, I, 342-44.

50. Albany Evening journal, 4 Feb. 1833.

51. Michael Hoffman to A. C. Flagg, 25, 26 Feb. 1833, Flagg Papers, NYPL; Albany Evening Journal, 4, 21 Feb. 1833; Charleston Courier, 21 Feb. 1833; Richmond Whig and Public Advertiser, 21 Feb. 1833; Daily Albany Argus, 28 Feb., 5 March 1833.

52. United States Constitution, Article I, Section 7.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ellis, Richard E. *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Richard E. Ellis, *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 28–29.

Shortened citation:

Ellis, *The Union at Risk*, 28–29.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.66

Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab

Steve Inskeep

SELECTION	Twenty-five: Executive
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Excerpt

Henry Clay worried about where the country was heading. He wrote that if Georgia resisted the ruling, "and the President refuses to enforce it, there is a virtual dissolution of the Union." But President Jackson seemed unconcerned. He took no steps, formal or informal, to encourage Georgia's compliance. Unlike with neighboring South Carolina—where during the same period he was using appeals, persuasion, threats, and finally legislation that allowed him to raise an army—Georgia's judicial nullifiers had his support.

Many years later, a political enemy of Jackson's claimed the president had said, "Justice Marshall has made his decision; now let him enforce it." Historians have questioned this statement, which did not appear in print until decades later, but similar statements were attributed to the president in real time. Two days after the ruling a New York newspaper reported Jackson's saying that the Supreme Court had no more right to order him around than he had the right to order the Supreme Court. The same day a Philadelphia newspaper said Jackson was telling people in private conversation that he "would not aid in carrying that judgment into effect." Yet another correspondent reported that Jackson "sportively said in private conversation" that if called upon to enforce the ruling "he will call on those who have brought about the decision to enforce it." He wrote his friend John Coffee:

The decision of the Supreme Court has fell still born, and they find that it cannot coerce Georgia to yield to its mandate.

The word "it" referred to the court's decision; "they find that it cannot coerce Georgia…" The ruling, simply a piece of paper, was indeed ineffective if no one acted on it. Some of Jackson's statements might be dismissed as angry bravado, except that he apparently made a similar statement directly to an influential Cherokee. Shortly after the ruling the president met with Major Ridge's son John Ridge, and spoke so forcefully that Jackson himself believed he had sent Ridge away in "despair." Jackson had not misread the young Cherokee diplomat, whose loss of faith in the Cherokee cause would soon have fatal effects.

Some historians have offered a limited defense of President Jackson: he technically could not be said to have defied the court, since the moment had not yet arrived when it was imperative for him to act. But while awaiting those formalities, Jackson was negligent at best. He could have said, as later generations of political leaders would say of Supreme Court rulings, that he disagreed but would respect the decision. He could have signaled to the Georgians that they must obey federal law, just as South Carolina must. He could have openly recognized the implications of Justice Marshall's ruling, which spread far beyond the imprisonment of Worcester and Butler. If the law used to imprison the missionaries was unconstitutional, then all Georgia laws relating to the Cherokees were unconstitutional. Jackson should have taken the cue that he must block the Georgians' survey of Cherokee land, and enforce existing federal law. He did nothing, and a justice close to Jackson informed the Cherokees that the very opposite of Jackson's duty would be done.

The significance of Jackson's course becomes clearer when compared with that of another chief executive in a comparable situation. In 1957, one of Jackson's successors also faced pressure to enforce a controversial Supreme Court decision that involved the rights of a racial minority in a southern state. In this case the racial minority was

African Americans. The court ruling, made three years earlier, was Brown v. Board of Education, which outlawed racial segregation in public education. States with segregated schools were instructed to devise ways to comply. School authorities in Little Rock, Arkansas, made plans to allow nine black students into Little Rock Central High School in the fall of 1957, only to face the defiance of Arkansas governor Orval Faubus, who ordered the National Guard to block the integration. President Dwight D. Eisenhower viewed it as his duty to enforce the ruling, and he ordered the 101st Airborne Division of the U.S. Army to protect the nine black students. To avoid the possibility of combat between state and federal forces, Eisenhower also used his authority to federalize the Arkansas National Guard, taking it out of the governor's hands. The school was desegregated, the Supreme Court vindicated, and despite intense debate the country at large sustained the president. Had Eisenhower done otherwise, catastrophe would have loomed.

Jackson did seem to understand, after his reelection was assured in 1832, that he was about to create a monster. The Georgia courts were not acting to free Worcester and Butler. In early 1833 Marshall would rule against Georgia again, and then Federal marshals or federal troops would be called upon to liberate the missionaries. If Jackson refused to enforce the ruling at that desperate moment, he would devastate the authority of the court as well as the authority of federal law. Worse, Jackson himself might look weak—backing down before the Georgians on an Indian question, just as John Quincy Adams had done before him. Yet if Jackson decided after all that he would enforce the law, he risked a crisis with Georgia at the same time as the nullification crisis with South Carolina.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Inskeep, Steve. *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab*. New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Steve Inskeep, *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab* (New York: Penguin Press, 2015), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Inskeep, *Jacksonland*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.67

How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier

Stuart Banner

SELECTION	How the Indians Lost Their Land
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 220–221 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

It did not take Wirt long to find a new case. Samuel Worcester, a Congregationalist missionary living among the Cherokees, was one of the most vocal white opponents of removal. In late 1830 the Georgia legisla¬ ture tried to drive people like Worcester away by making it illegal for whites to reside within the Cherokee Nation without a license from the state. In 1831, soon after the Supreme Court's decision in Cherokee Na¬ tion v. Georgia, Worcester was convicted of violating this law. He was sentenced to four years of hard labor in the state penitentiary. Wirt promptly asked the Supreme Court to hear the case, and the Court agreed. This time there was nothing Georgia could do to stop it. The Court clearly had jurisdiction, and because Worcester had been sen¬ tenced to prison rather than death, the state could not moot the case by executing him.

Worcester v. Georgia (1832), the opinion that resulted, was an astonish¬ ingly pro-Indian document for the era. The winner in a technical sense was Worcester, whose conviction was reversed, but Chief Justice Mar¬ shall's opinion vindicated the Cherokees' position on virtually every point in their long dispute with Georgia. Marshall must have been both¬ ered by the way Georgia officials had relied on passages from his opin¬ ions in Johnson v. MJntosh and Fletcher v. Peck, because his opinion in

Worcester included none of the ambiguity and vacillation of his earlier pronouncements. Marshall began by mocking "the extravagant and ab¬ surd idea, that the feeble settlements made on the sea coast" by early English colonists had given England any right to govern the Indians or occupy their land. All that colonial settlement entitled the English to do, Marshall insisted, was to purchase "such lands as the natives were willing to sell." And until the Indians decided to sell their land, he coneluded, the English (and thus the United States as well) had only the most limited kind of power with respect to the land. They had the right to keep agents of other European sovereigns away, but that was all. Eng¬ land, and later the United States, had no authority to interfere with the Indians' ownership of the land or their sovereignty over it. "Our history furnishes no example," Marshall declared, "from the first settlement of our country, of any attempt on the part of the crown to interfere with the internal affairs of the Indians." He cited the federal government's trea¬ ties with the Indians, and the various statutes respecting the rights of In¬ dian tribes, as proof that this recognition of Indian sovereignty had con¬ tinued throughout the history of the United States. As a result, Marshall concluded, "the Cherokee nation, then, is a distinct community occupy¬ ing its own territory, with boundaries accurately described, in which the laws of Georgia can have no force, and which the citizens of Georgia have no right to enter." The law under which Samuel Worcester was convicted was accordingly void.

In Worcester v. Georgia, John Marshall led the Supreme Court in a ring¬ ing declaration of Indian sovereignty. The crux of Worcester contradicted some of what Marshall had said in his earlier opinions. The idea that co¬ lonial settlement gave England sovereignty over North America, for ex¬ ample, may have been "extravagant and absurd," but it was an idea that Marshall himself had played an important role in propagating nine years earlier in Johnson v. MJntosh. In Johnson, Marshall had been primarily concerned not with Indians but with white settlers who had received grants of unsold Indian land from state governments. In Worcester, by contrast, when the removal controversy was at its height and the fate of the Cherokees seemed to hang in the balance, Marshall revealed much more sympathy for the Indians.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Banner, Stuart. *How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Stuart Banner, *How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005), 220–221.

Shortened citation:

Banner, *How the Indians Lost Their Land*, 220–221.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.68

The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears

Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green

SELECTION	RESISTING REMOVAL
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Viking, 2007.

Excerpt

In this, the first of the two landmark Cherokee cases decided by the Marshall Court in the early 1830s, Wirt based his presentation of the case on the claim that the Cherokee Nation met the constitutional conception of a foreign nation. The Nation, therefore, had standing before the Court and could argue for an injunction against the state of Georgia. Wirt and his cocounsel, John Sergeant, based their argument on the treaty history of the Cherokee Nation. The Cherokee Nation, they contended, retained sovereignty in all things except the two explicitly surrendered by treaty: The Nation agreed to sell land only to the United States, and it accepted U.S. control over its foreign relations and trade. Included in this assertion of retained sovereignty was the right to govern itself as a separate and distinct nation. Rejecting the right of discovery that Georgia claimed it inherited from England, the Nation also retained full authority over the land within its borders, and those rights both predated and were superior to Georgia's pretensions. By enacting and signing the law in question, Georgia's General Assembly and governor had unlawfully violated the sovereignty of the Cherokee Nation. The attorneys then described the effects of Georgia's illegal actions, including the trial and execution of Tassel, the imprisonment of several other Cherokees, and numerous infringements on their individual property rights. The Removal Act did not require emigration, reminded the attorneys, but the effect of Georgia's legislation, coupled with the refusal of the president to fulfill his constitutional obligation to execute the laws and treaties of the United States by protecting the sovereign rights of the Cherokee Nation, was tantamount to forcible expulsion. The argument lasted for three days in mid-March 1831. Georgia, denying any jurisdiction of the Supreme Court in state affairs, refused to appear.

Six justices heard the case, and their split decision amounts to a 2-2-2 vote. Two justices concluded that the Cherokee Nation was neither a foreign state nor a sovereign nation and that Cherokee individuals were subjects of the state of Georgia. Two argued that the Cherokee Nation was sovereign, had standing before the Court as a foreign state, and was entitled to protection against the unconstitutional laws of Georgia. And two, including Chief Justice John Marshall, decided between the two extremes. The Cherokee Nation lacked standing because it was not a foreign state, but it deserved to be recognized and respected, although as what was not altogether clear, despite Marshall's efforts to describe it. At any rate, four justices agreed to deny the Cherokee Nation standing. Chief Justice Marshall wrote the opinion that the Cherokee Nation could not sue the state of Georgia, and the Court threw out the case for lack of jurisdiction. The justices did not address the Cherokee claim that the legislation of Georgia was unconstitutional and should be declared null and void.

The crucial question in the case was whether the Cherokee Nation was a foreign state. Marshall accepted Wirt's contention that it was "a distinct political society, separated from others, capable of managing its own affairs and governing itself." The Cherokee Nation was a state and had been "uniformly treated as a state from the settlement of the country." The treaties verified such a conclusion, and Congress had enacted laws accordingly. "The acts of our government plainly recognize the Cherokee nation as a state, and the Courts are bound by those acts." But in Marshall's view the Cherokee state was not a foreign one. The problem was that the tribes were within the boundaries of the United States, they had accepted the protection of the United States in the treaties, and they had agreed that the United States had the exclusive right to manage their trade. And while they had rights to the land, they "occupy a territory to which we assert a title independent of their will, which must take effect in point of possession when their right of possession ceases." All this denied their foreignness. Searching for an acceptable definition, Marshall coined the term "domestic dependent nation," which he tried to explain by analogy. The tribes were in a "state of pupilage," he wrote, and had a relationship with the United States that "resembles that of a ward to his guardian." Several

members of a Cherokee delegation, described by observers as “intelligent and respectful,” sat in the gallery during the case, reportedly crying when Wirt recited the troubles Georgia forced their people to endure. They returned home in April 1831, ready to report.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Perdue, Theda, and Michael D. Green. *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears*. Penguin Library of American Indian History. New York: Viking, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Theda Perdue and Michael D. Green, *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears* (Viking, 2007), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Green, *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.69

The Legal Ideology of Removal: The Southern Judiciary and the Sovereignty of Native American Nations

Tim Alan Garrison

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: University of Georgia Press, 2002.

Excerpt

Cherokees' favor might either turn Georgia from its policy of intimidation or, more likely, persuade Congress or President Jackson to intervene on the Cherokees' behalf. Ross hoped, in other words, that a legal victory would stem the political tide toward removal. Instead, Georgia ignored Worcester and refused to release the missionaries. To the Cherokees' further consternation, Jackson refrained from making any effort to enforce the decision against the state. "The decision of the supreme court has fell still born, > the president wrote, "and they find that they cannot coerce Georgia to yield to its mandate." Without the threat of enforcement by federal troops, the Court's decision in favor of Cherokee sovereignty was rendered meaningless.!° During his term as chief justice, Marshall had methodically elevated the Supreme Court's authority and established it as the ultimate interpreter and arbiter of the Constitution. But ironically, at the end of his term, the word of the Court received almost unanimous disapprobation from the president and the legislatures and courts of the southern states.

Scholars have never adequately explained how the Court's authority, so richly expanded during the Marshall era, could have been so completely repudiated by such a broad segment of the American legal and political community. Histories of the Removal Crisis usually state that Jackson and Georgia did not agree with Worcester, so they simply ignored it. But the nonenforcement of Worcester was less a clash of personality—between Jackson and Marshall or between the Georgia government and Ross—than it was a conflict of competing legal arguments; and the president and the radical removal proponents, as independent as they were, might not have so openly disavowed the decision without some semblance of legal authority to do so. Indeed, the southern position, that the Indian tribes held no political or property rights worthy of recognition by American courts, was not without legal foundation. In fact, elements of the southern removal ideology dated back well into the legal and political history of Europe and the United States.

Between 1830 and 1835, three state supreme courts in the South percolated the threads of the long tradition of anti-Indian legal prejudice into a formal legal position that justified the expropriation of Native American land. The decisions of the southern tribunals filled the legal vacuum created by the general disavowal of Worcester and provided legal legitimacy to the state legislative assault on Indian rights. In Georgia v. Tassels (1830), Caldwell v. Alabama (1831), and Tennessee v. Forman (1835), the southern courts produced analyses that countered those espoused by Marshall in Cherokee Nation and Worcester. The tribes were not sovereign nations, the southern courts held; Indians were simply, as individuals, subjects of the states in which they lived. Each state, the southern judges said, held the authority to extend its jurisdiction to the reaches of its territorial limits, regardless of federal-Indian treaties or national legislation to the contrary. Hence, each state possessed the power to abolish the government and laws, and the right to extinguish competing property claims, of any tribe residing within its borders. Historically, legal scholars have quite naturally tended to focus on the decisions of the U.S.

Supreme Court. As a result, the state courts are a relatively unexploited and fertile ground for historical research, and I suspect that in the future we will find that the attention to the federal courts has seriously distorted our understanding of the manner in which law developed in the United States.!' Historical concentration on the Supreme Court's decisions in Cherokee Nation and Worcester, for example, has tended to overshadow the role the southern state courts played in the Removal Crisis and the important influences the southern judiciary had in the origins of

American Indian law. The southern courts' repudiation of tribal sovereignty, and their position on the relative power of the state and federal governments over Indian affairs, perhaps influenced the development of that law as much as Marshall's recognition of tribal sovereignty in Worcester. Scholars have also generally overlooked the interplay that occurred between the state and federal courts, and the impact of those remote conversations on the issues of import. For instance, when read in chronological order of decision, the federal and southern state cases offer a lengthy and concentrated debate on the place of the Native American and the Indian tribe in the American constitutional system. Issued before the Supreme Court became entangled in the dispute between Georgia and the Cherokees, Georgia v. Tassels initiated the conversation by directly challenging the principle of tribal sovereignty established in the previous four decades of U.S.-Indian relations. The subsequent state case, Caldwell v. Alabama, provided the southern judiciary's reaction to Cherokee Nation. The Alabama supreme court's three turgid opinions in that case, spanning 117 pages of the Alabama Reports, represented the most comprehensive explication of the southern position on Indian tribal and individual rights; we cannot appreciate the true radicalism of Worcester v. Georgia without placing it into the context of the southern position. Tennessee v. Forman, the final case of the southern triumvirate, repudiated Marshall's bold recognition of tribal sovereignty in Worcester. The Forman case also ended the Cherokees' hopes of maintaining a national status in the Southeast.

In 1832, the Cherokees had moved their government from New Echota (in the area annexed by Georgia) across the border to Red Clay in present-day Tennessee to escape Georgia's persecution. From time to time, the Cherokee leadership had considered surrendering its territory in Georgia and reestablishing the nation permanently in

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Garrison, Tim Alan. *The Legal Ideology of Removal: The Southern Judiciary and the Sovereignty of Native American Nations*. Athens: University of Georgia Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Tim Alan Garrison, *The Legal Ideology of Removal: The Southern Judiciary and the Sovereignty of Native American Nations* (University of Georgia Press, 2002), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Garrison, *The Legal Ideology of Removal*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.70

Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War

Bray Hammond

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 456–457 · Supplied edition: Princeton University Press, 1957.

Excerpt

The surplus had been accumulated in the form of balances due the government on the books of the pet banks, and the administration in Washington seems to have been under the impression that though the banks had lent the funds, as Mr Tan~y had encouraged them to do, they also retained them and could at any time meet heavy withdrawals in specie. Actually, as Jabez Hammond said of the situation in New York, the banks had "treated this immense amount of money as so much capital on which they could make loans," and consequently the order from the Treasury for the distribution was to them "extremely embarrassing." They "complained that the mode of distribution adopted by the secretary, Mr Woodbury, was unwise and unnecessarily oppressive." This was in New York, where the banks were hand in glove with the party and where moreover there would be a net gain of funds from the distribution. The western banks could complain far more. Government funds had accumulated in them to an amount double what they could keep under the distribution, and suddenly they were called on to surrender the excess in specie to be shipped east. The J acksonians were not peculiarly responsible for the distribution, but they administered it in a crude fashion intolerably hard on the West. "The specie circular may have been harsh," writes Dr Carter H. Golembe in his account of western banking in this period, "but the withdrawal of deposits was fatal."·

II Although the specie circular and the distribution were important domestic disturbances in the United States, they were minor beside other evils produced by years of speculation and hasty expansion in the transatlantic economy comprising Britain and America. These two jealous and touchy partners complemented each other to the immense concern of each. Britain had become the premier industrial and financial power of the world. She found in the States the premier market for her goods and for her capital and the premier source of cotton for her mills. Americans found in her their premier market for their cotton and their securities. With these they paid for what they obtained from her in goods. In June 1836, because her specie reserves were falling away rapidly, the Bank of England raised her discount rate from 4 to 4% per cent. In August she raised it again from 4% to 5 per cent. But not until after she undertook this action, apparently, did she become aware of the extent to which credit in the British money market was centered on American trade. About the same time she got word of the specie circular. Filled with alarm at the situation in the British market and at what the specie circular indicated was and would be the situation in America, the Bank took direct action in a letter to her Liverpool agent instructing him to reject the paper of certain specified houses with American interests. She allowed this discrimination to become known in an ill-considered and startling fashion that annihilated the credit of those houses and shook the whole trade. Thus within a few weeks the blow delivered the American market by President Jackson with the specie circular was paralleled by the Bank of England in the British market.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hammond, Bray. *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1957.

Footnote citation:

Bray Hammond, *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War* (Princeton University Press, 1957), 456–457.

Shortened citation:

Hammond, *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War*, 456–457.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.71

The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis

Jessica M. Lepler

SELECTION	hapter 1 A Very “Gamblous” Affair
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 19–20 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

Not surprising given its size and significance, the BUS inspired both confidence in financial paper, including both notes and bills, as well as charges of corruption. Disparaging the national paper currency, William Leggett, a New York newspaper editor who disliked banks and the economic changes they facilitated, warned that “[men] count, deluded creatures! on the continued liberality of the banks, whose persuasive entreaties seduced them into the slippery paths of speculation.” Leggett’s idea, that trust in paper money encouraged speculation and that this behavior had corrupted America’s citizenry, echoed the language of many who tried to stop the go-ahead spirit. Ironically, even such critics, called “croakers,” relied on the infrastructure that economic growth enabled: cheaply distributed newspapers subsidized by a federal budget bloated with the revenue of import tariffs and land sales. The issues of how to balance security and risk, morality and sin, independent democracy and national improvement congealed into a debate over banking that dominated American politics for much of the 1830s. Moreover, with nearly universal white male suffrage, the American electorate became so divided over the bank war that it helped build partisanship on a scale the world had never before known.

President Andrew Jackson joined Leggett in his concern about banks’ control over Americans’ lives. Jackson’s Democratic Party was divided between “hard-money” advocates who wanted to eliminate all banks and eager entrepreneurs who wanted to sever federal ties with the BUS to free the nation’s capital for more local investments. Together, these two factions encouraged Jackson to wage “war” on the “monster” BUS. Jackson chose his words carefully and allowed his supporters to define the terms of the debate. By referring to the BUS as a monster, he suggested that the institution held titanic and unnatural power. Some of his supporters would extend this condemnation to all banks; meanwhile, others argued that state-chartered banks offered a favorable alternative to the BUS. By waging war on the BUS, the former general claimed his anti-bank policy making to be within his job description as commander in chief; his opponents in the Whig Party and even some Democratic legislators would come to see Jackson’s war with the bank as executive imperialism.

Due to expire in 1836, the charter of the BUS became a topic of congressional debate in Jackson’s first term. In 1832, the president vetoed a bill to recharter the BUS, and with his veto message turned the bank war into a reelection campaign platform that attacked plutocracy and centralized power. Jackson viewed his electoral victory in 1832 as a mandate to destroy the bank; his exit strategy for the bank war, however, remained vague.

To remove the federal government’s funds legally from the BUS, the secretary of the treasury had to provide evidence to Congress that the federal funds were unsafe. Jackson had to replace one and dismiss another secretary of the treasury before, in 1833, he finally appointed Roger Taney, who ignored the glowing reports from Congress’s recent investigation of the BUS. Taney gradually depleted the federal deposits by withdrawing but not depositing funds in the BUS. Congress censured the president, but Jackson nevertheless directed Taney and his successor, Levi Woodbury, to deposit incoming federal tax revenue in hand-chosen state-chartered banks, derisively called “pet banks,” located throughout the nation. The network of federal deposit banks was designed to democratize finance by providing nonelite, non-eastern white men access to banks. To some extent it succeeded, but it would be more accurate to say the pet bank system Democratized banking because it rewarded loyal Democratic Party–affiliated bank directors with federal capital. Accusations of demagoguery replaced accusations of plutocracy, but the bank war was far from over.

Jackson's democratization utterly failed to fulfill the demands of the hard-money men who wanted to eliminate all banks and paper money. The number of banks immediately began to multiply and some historians argue that the quantity of paper money also increased out of proportion to any sensible reserve ratio. A political cartoon entitled "General Jackson Slaying the Many Headed Monster" (Figure 2) visualized the bank war by depicting the financial system as a hydra; Jackson decapitated one head only to release many more.

Banking had become decentralized but less regulated. Nicholas Biddle, president of the BUS, demonstrated the centralized power that would be lost when the BUS charter expired by directing his employees to redeem large quantities of notes at the nation's banks and by increasing the discount rate on bills of exchange. Biddle argued that these were necessary procedures for insuring the solvency and liquidity of the BUS after its loss of the federal government's funds, but he injured the BUS's reputation by causing trouble for merchants and financiers who relied on low rates to turn a profit on international trade. His opponents saw these actions as partisan retaliation and labeled the 1834 credit crisis "Biddle's Panic."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lepler, Jessica M. *The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Jessica M. Lepler, *The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis* (Cambridge University Press, 2013), 19–20.

Shortened citation:

Lepler, *The Many Panics of 1837*, 19–20.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.72

The Age of Jackson

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr.

SELECTION	ni TRADITIONS OF DEMOC
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 505–506 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1945.

Excerpt

RACY THE TRADITION of Jefferson and Jackson might recede, but it could never disappear. It was bound to endure in America liberty. The business community has been ordinarily the most powerand Jackson, and it has been the basic meaning of American liberalafter the Civil War. There had risen up before the war a party of loyalties and capacities of men of good will. The antislavery crusade the party of Jacksonian democracy. agonizing question and fighting an exhausting war. But in part, too, war. The Jacksonian analysis correctly made it imperative for the to gain strength and urgency from the war, or even to arm itself for those who contend for caste and privilege, and those who neither have nor desire to have privileges beyond their fellows. It is the old question that has always, in all free countries, subsisted — the question of the wealthy and crafty few endeavoring to steal from the masses of the people all the political power of the Government.^

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Footnote citation:

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Little, Brown, 1945), 505–506.

Shortened citation:

Schlesinger, *The Age of Jackson*, 505–506.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.73

Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	The Great Body of the People
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 35–36 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1990.

Excerpt

The political controversy over economic development came to focus most acutely on the issue of money—the currency that Americans passed from hand to hand—and the banks, the institutions that issued, collected, and dispersed it. The spread of commercial activity after 1815 brought more and more farmers, artisans, and professionals into the world of monetary exchange. As true commerce replaced barter, Jacksonian Americans learned that money could hardly be taken for granted, that its influence over society was far from neutral, and that power over money could be used to remake the social and economic landscape in previously unimagined ways. In particular, the value and supply of money could be manipulated in order to stimulate economic growth or to slow it down, to encourage a broad distribution of the benefits of economic change or to concentrate economic power more tightly. The currency question therefore became one of the most troubling political controversies of Jacksonian America, as Andrew Jackson led a successful crusade to destroy the Bank of the United States (the nation's largest bank), to suppress the most commonly used forms of paper money, and to establish a national currency composed of gold and silver coins.

Money in the antebellum United States consisted of paper currency and specie, or gold and silver coins. Issued by the federal government and foreign nations, specie was valued for certain purposes but was also scarce and cumbersome to use. Most daily transactions were conducted with paper money, which was issued not by the government but by commercial banks. The banks were therefore central institutions of the new economy, and it is important to understand something of how they worked. plied to their state legislature for a charter, a document establishing them as a corporate body and limiting each shareholder's personal liability for the debts of the corporation. Widely available today, incorporation was a rare privilege in the 1820s and 1830s, supposedly bestowed by state legislatures on companies with a special public service function. Railroad and canal companies were frequent recipients of corporate privileges, and banks argued successfully for the same status because they supplied the currency that the community relied upon. In practice, political favoritism and inside connections were often key determinants of who received a valuable corporate charter.

Once they were incorporated, shareholders paid in their capital, preferably in specie. Under the lax standards of the day, however, purchasers frequently gave personal IOUs for stock, offering nothing more than the stock itself as collateral. Once a specified portion of the stock was paid for, the bank elected officers and opened for business. Ordinarily, loans were made to borrowers for renewabie periods of sixty to ninety days, and profits accrued from the interest on these loans. The typical customer was a merchant who borrowed money to purchase goods in a distant city and repaid the loan when the goods were sold, but renewable notes could also be used to purchase land, slaves, equipment, or any other investment. The banks made their loans by issuing their own notes, which were paper certificates supposedly convertible to specie on demand and which therefore passed as money. The borrower spent his notes for goods and services, and the notes began to circulate in the community.

There was no specific limit to the volume of loans that a bank could make, and it was expected that bankers would lend out far more notes than they could ever redeem in specie at any one time. As long as the ratio between the specie in the bank's vaults and the volume of its notes in circulation did not become excessive, the bank was usually sound, but the temptation to lend extensively and to profit from the resulting interest sometimes led bankers into perilous financial waters. When too many loans were made and too many notes were issued, business temporarily boomed

under the generous supply of money and prices tended to rise. Inflation could be followed by severe deflation, however, and then the economy settled into depression.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America*. Updated ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America* (Hill and Wang, 1990), 35–36.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Liberty and Power*, 35–36.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.74

The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War

Michael F. Holt

SELECTION	We Have Many Recruits in Our Ranks from the Pressure of the Times''
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 61–62 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

With old issues gone, Whigs would have to sustain their new party as an anti- Van Buren venture. But the new president's intentions were unclear. He promised in his inaugural address to continue his predecessor's policies, and Whig politicos had sadly learned that most voters tolerated those policies more easily than they did. While the president's course "will not be such as you & I are likely to approve," Webster guessed, the "Country" might find it "acceptable."

Within nine weeks of Van Buren's accession to power, however, an economic collapse swept away the fog that had shrouded the Whigs' political future. On May 10, 1837, banks in New York City suspended specie payments. Financial panic immediately seized the country as banks elsewhere followed suit, credit disappeared, loans were called, and prices plummeted. That panic began a cycle of recession, recovery, and depression that became the dominant force shaping American politics between 1837 and 1844. Those economic fluctuations spawned a political agenda for Whigs and Democrats to battle over in national and state arenas. They allowed Whigs to add support for programs to spur growth and economic recovery to their attacks on antirepublican tyranny. Since governments' response to economic hardship heightened people's political interest, Whigs' chances for broadening their electoral base brightened.

More important, the economic tailspin that began in 1837 ensured that the Whig party would endure. It was not foreordained in 1834 that the Whig party would for twenty years remain the primary political vehicle for almost all the Democrats' foes. Since it was founded primarily to rescue the government from Democratic presidents, it might well have disintegrated after it failed to accomplish that task in 1836, to be replaced by a new party based on different principles. That was exactly what Clay feared, in view of the party's divided and aimless condition at the beginning of 1837.

Had events focused attention on slavery and abolitionism, for example, the party's 1836 problems might have become insurmountable. Abolitionists' continued petitions to Congress, calling for an end to slavery in the District of Columbia, and the proslavery Republic of Texas' appeal for admission to the United States portended sectionally divisive issues that could fundamentally alter political alignments.

The economic crisis in the spring of 1837 channeled political development in a different direction. However shaky its condition, the Whig party was in place to benefit from discontent with the "in" Democratic regime engendered by depression. The slump allowed Whigs to fashion a distinctive national and state program of governmental economic policy, a program that united its northern and southern wings, reinforced the partisan identity of Whig voters, and massively extended that partisan allegiance to new voters. Once created, that partisan identity became a prism through which Whig voters viewed sectional issues themselves. All in all, the economic disaster that followed Jackson's departure from office was the pivotal episode in the growth of the Whig party.

The financial panic that began in May 1837 stunningly terminated a seemingly endless and dizzying upward economic spiral. Between the summer of 1834 and the end of 1836, high foreign demand for key export crops like cotton, ample foreign credit for American merchants, and significant infusions of foreign gold and silver doubled the

nation's money supply and propelled prices to unprecedented levels, thus ensuring profits to the vast majority of Americans who produced goods for sale. Easy credit and burgeoning money supplies spawned a boom mentality. Private investors started new businesses. State governments frantically launched internal improvement projects such as canals and railroads that they hoped would match the spectacular success of New York's Erie Canal.

The most apparent aspect of the frenzy, however, was massive purchasing of western land. Government land sales exploded from $6 million in 1834 to $16 million in 1835 and $25 million in 1836. As crop prices rose, farmers and planters sought more land so that they could plant more acres to cash in on the bonanza, and they recklessly took out readily available bank loans to do it. But most of those government sales reflected sheer speculation by people who hoped to resell land at a profit to the settlers who were swarming into the North and Southwest in the 1830s.

Dazzled by present prosperity and the prospects for even more in the future, most Americans had ignored warning cries about the vulnerabilities of this economic structure. Both Whig and Democratic spokesmen had long predicted some kind of collapse, and both had ready explanations when it came. Jackson and his antibank advisors, for example, had cringed at the expansion of paper money and banking that followed the removal of deposits. As a result, they had moved toward a hard-money standard in order to restrain the economy and to develop a new Democratic issue to substitute for their victorious war against the Bank. The famous Specie Circular of July 1836 specifically aimed at slowing the land boom and "the ruinous extension of bank issues and credits." And in April 1837, Van Buren defended that Circular as "the only measure that could save the country."

When the panic broke, Democrats quickly condemned bankers for inciting a corrupting speculative spirit that was bound to produce a crash. Private economic actors, not Democratic policies, they insisted, were responsible. Jackson and other Democrats, these spokesmen asserted, had sought to mitigate the damage by returning the country to a hard-money standard. Now, only that standard could cure the disastrous consequences of excessive credit, speculation, overtrading, and paper money.

Whigs, in contrast, blamed Jackson and Van Buren for causing the panic. Since the inception of their party, Whigs had warned that by destroying the Bank of the United States, Jackson had jettisoned the American financial system's stabilizing anchor. Without Biddle's institution to restrain other banks, they charged, currency would lose its uniform value, bank notes would no longer be accepted at face value, and chaos would ensue. Furthermore, Jackson, by placing federal deposits in state banks, first encouraged the overextension of the banking system and then compounded the problem by undermining public faith in the value of bank notes with executive orders banning government use of small notes and the Specie Circular. The Specie Circular further aggravated that pressure by forcing the movement of specie from eastern banks to the West, where the land markets were located. Jackson, in sum, had spurred the expansion of notes beyond the system's capacity to redeem them, and then he had sabotaged confidence in those notes so that people would try to redeem them. To account for the panic and the subsequent economic hardship, Whigs jeered, one need look no further than Democratic incompetence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Holt, Michael F. *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Michael F. Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War* (Oxford University Press, 1999), 61–62.

Shortened citation:

Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party*, 61–62.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.75

Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	n Retrospect
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 177–178 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Excerpt

President could be a politician of the masses; and it fashioned the character of the Democratic party in terms of leadership, organizational discipline, and popular following for nearly a generation. Even more significant, the Bank War became the instrument by which the powers of the President were vastly expanded. Whether justified or not, Jackson succeeded in destroying a powerful institution deeply entrenched in the economic (if not political) life of the country. To do this, he enlarged the the veto power and claimed the right to block legislation for reasons of policy or expediency rather than constitutionality.

in all legislation in order to avoid a possible veto. Next, he broadened the political power base of the presidency by taking the Bank issue to the people and winning an overwhelming vicnot hesitate to claim an augmentation of executive authority by strated this authority by destroying the Bank over intense Congressional opposition. In addition, Jackson widened the support when he tangled with Congress. Moreover, he advanced 178 A Bibliographical Review the concept that the President is the direct (and sole) representative of the people, a revolutionary concept for its time. Lastly, he settled the question that the President has absolute power to remove subordinate executive officers at will. In the course of the Bank War, Jackson used the presidency for purposes of national leadership. In the process he narrowed the distance between the President and Congress and between the President and the electorate. By his constant appeal for popular support in the important issues facing his administration, Jackson encouraged democratic attitudes among the peo-

Today, the system of American government requires strong executive action to accomplish the purposes of democracy. Since the office did not come equipped with the necessary powers under the original Constitution, they had to be added through an historical process by the aggressive action of vigorous Presidents. Andrew Jackson was one of a half dozen Presifederal government. In his two terms in office he virtually remade the presidency; and he did it, to a large extent, during the Bank War.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power* (W. W. Norton, 1967), 177–178.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War*, 177–178.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.76

Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Strikes and Politics
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 235–236 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

Politics proved more troublesome. In the aftermath of the Bank War, the revolution in party politics begun by the Van Burenite Bucktails completed its course, and by 1834 the New York Whig party was virtually in place. Now that electoral politics were firmly in the grip of party professionals and their well-to-do political allies, there was little opportunity for a radical movement of wage earners to enter politics on its own. A schism in Tammany ranks in 1835, led by the Radical antibanking Democracy of the ex-Owenite Evans, did create a new Equal Rights (or Loco Foco) party, an effort that won the backing of some influential unionists, including Commerford. But while the Loco Focos updated the Owenite "Workies" radicalism, their position vis-a-vis the labor movement remained problematic. Their politics, echoing Paine, aimed primarily to purify government and eliminate aristocratic corrupt influences, particularly the new Tammany pols and their banker friends; their program, as formulated by such publicists and allies as William Leggett, was vitriolic in its denunciation of monopolies, banking, and paper money, but contained no hint of Skidmorite agrarianism, Owenite rationalism, or (at least until the labor crisis of 1836) trade unionism. The Loco Focos' laissez-faire appeals—to restore "the landmarks and principles of true Democracy"—were as appropriate for petty entrepreneurs in search of wider business opportunities and nominal Jacksonians on the outs with Tammany as for exploited workers in search of a deflationary currency and an end to banks. The party's leadership and following, far from being that of a popular movement, was a cross-class coalition much like the Democrats' or Whigs', led by professionals, petty and middling mediants, and disgruntled renegades from the Democratic General Executive Committee. A few radicals like Commerford could see the line of convergence between the Loco Focos' cause and the journeymen's, but this was not enough to risk a formal union alliance with a small Democratic splinter group.[30]

Under these circumstances, the unionists faced a dilemma. Clearly, they had abundant reasons to avoid getting caught up in party affairs or allying with regular politicians—to the Union, those "wire pullers who move the juggling machines of 'the party.'" Yet while they felt compelled to preserve their political independence, the unions could ill afford to renounce politics entirely. Issues like those raised in the Bank War were of direct concern to union men, regardless of the motives of some of the politicians who agitated them; although not "intended to interfere in party politics," the National Trades' Union observed, the unions recognized that "many of the evils under which the workingmen are suffering are of a political origin and can only be reached in that way." Rather than stand in fixed opposition to political action, the journeymen looked for ways to influence public questions without becoming dupes.[31]

With surprising success, the unionists walked a tightrope between compromising commitment and outright abstention. On matters of broad significance, like the rechartering of the Bank, the GTU made its preferences clear in every way short of formal endorsement or political merger.

Author's Notes

29. Stevens, Typographical Union, 153; Commons, Documentary History, V, 247; National Trades' Union, September 6, 1834, January 17, May 2, 1835. On GTU parades, see also Wilentz, "Artisan Republican Festivals," 57-60; on songs, see Philip S. Foner, American Labor Songs o/ the Nineteenth Century (Urbana, 1975), 18-19.

30. On the Loco Focos, see Hugins, Jacksonian Democracy, 36-48, 148-202 passim (but beware Hugins's merging of the Loco Focos and the earlier Working Men's movement as a single movement); Hofstadter, "William Leggett"; Carl N. Degler, "The Locofocos: Urban 'Agrarians,'" /EH 16 (1956): 322-33; Mushkat, Tammany, 167- 68; Stephen Hasbrouck to Alexander F. Vache, October 14, 1836, Mrs. Gouverneur Morris Phelps Collection: Equal Rights Party, N-YHS MSS. On Commerford and the Loco Focos, see Fitzwilliam Byrdsall, History of the Loco-Foco or Equal Rights Party (New York, 1842), 17, 36, 51, 54, 75-79, 93. For a useful discussion of the "hardmoney" New York Democracy, see Sharp, Jacksonians versus the Banks, 297-305.

31. Union, June 8, 1836; National Trades' Union, September 20, 1834. See also National Trades' Union, March 28, 1835; Union, April 21, May 20, June 22, 1836. There were, to be sure, always some men in the union who thought the journeymen should take a political turn. See Man, March 28, 1835. On what became of that sentiment, see below, Chapter 7.

32. Mart, February 8, April 3, 4, 5, 26, May 7, 12, 15, 17, 1834. At least one individual union, the cordwainers', did see fit to support the Democratic candidate and to issue a broad statement backing President Jackson.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850* (Oxford University Press, 1984), 235–236.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Chants Democratic*, 235–236.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.77

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	THE RISE OF AMERICAN DEMOCRACY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 438–439 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

Apart from Jackson's Indian policy, nothing in his presidency has attracted more sustained criticism in recent decades than his expansion of the so-called pet bank system and his push for a specie currency after 1834. At worst, historians have ascribed the continuation of the Bank War to Jackson's ignorant antibank rage and his abiding hatred of Biddle, which ambitious state bankers exploited to enrich themselves and create a gigantic speculative bubble in 1835 and 1836. Even some of his most sympathetic biographers and interpreters have conceded that Jackson's understanding of banking and currency was "naive" and even "a little foolish," and that by sponsoring the pet state banks, he removed "a valu able brake on credit expansion" and "accelerated the tendencies toward infla tion." Others cite the policies as examples of the rigid laissez-faire ideology—"to liberate business" from government—that supposedly guided the Jacksonians' every move.

There was, without question, a dominant antistatist cast, both symbolic and substantive, to Jacksonian economic politics. The neo-Jeffersonian motto of Blair's Washington Globe, later picked up by John O'Sullivan's Democratic Review—"That government is best, which governs least" —powerfully expressed the antigovernment creed. Yet as Jackson himself always made clear, the Jackso nians opposed large government not because it burdened business but because they believed it was a creature of the monied and privileged few, constructed in defiance of popular sovereignty, that corrupted democracy. "Experience will show," the New York Evening Post said, "that this power has always been exer cised under the influence and for the exclusive benefit of wealth." Too rarely have historians understood or even taken seriously the Jacksonians' repeated claims, after as well as during the BUS veto battle, that they aimed not to liberate private business interests from a corrupt government, but to liberate democratic government from the corrupting power of exclusive private business interests. Too rarely have historians appreciated the Democrats' willingness to wield fed eral power forcefully, over economic issues no less than over nullification, when they thought doing so was necessary to protect the democratic republic.

The administration designed its evolving economic and fiscal policies, includ ing creating a specie currency, as new, fully constitutional means to perform Nicholas Biddle's old job. Those policies, although developed in a piecemeal, halting fashion, originated not in rage or ignorance but in reasoned theories of finance and economic development, as well as in readings of the Constitution in line with Jackson's own. Known, by now, under the general rubric of "hard money," these democratic theories had a long history, from the critiques of the Hamiltonian paper-money system in the 1790s to the writings, forty years later, of the antimonopolist Working Men and western money radicals like Thomas Hart Benton and Amos Kendall. They began to crystallize as a coherent intellectual force in national politics in 1833, with the emergence of what might be called a hard-money intelligentsia, later to be identified with the Loco Focos. Only then did the Jacksonians seize on these theories as a positive justification for their own banking ideas and policies."

The most successful statement was a treatise with an unpromising dry title, A Short History of Paper Money and Banking in the United States. Its author, the self-taught printer and journalist William M. Gouge, had been one of the signato ries (and probably chief author) of the important Philadelphia Workie memorial against the BUS in 1829. Now, his limpid, massively documented explication became a runaway best-seller, both in its first edition published in 1833 and in a cheap popular edition printed two years later. The Evening Post, Blair's Washing ton Globe, and many other newspapers either serialized it or reprinted large excerpts from it. Theophilus Fisk, William Leggett, and

other radical Democrats devoured the book, sang Gouge's praises, and became hard-money publicists themselves. Francis Blair made certain that the Kitchen Cabinet members read it, and early in 1835, the Treasury Department, under its new secretary, Levi Wood bury, hired Gouge as an in-house adviser, writing notes and memoranda that would help shape government policy long after Jackson's presidency."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 438–439.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 438–439.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.78

America's First Great Depression: Economic Crisis and Political Disorder after the Panic of 1837

Alasdair Roberts

SELECTION	The bubble
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 35–36 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 2012.

Excerpt

The blame for the bubble was put on Jackson early and remained there for a very long time. “All the evils… that affl icted the people, were attributed to the experiments of General Jackson,” said George Boutwell, a Massachusetts Demo crat. “As these evils were coincident in time with the mea sures, the mea sures were treated as the guilty cause.” In 1924, historian Reginald McGrane still insisted that it was the “contest between the cohorts of Andrew Jackson and Nicholas Biddle [that] prepared the ground for the hard times of 1837.” Twenty years later, the landmark biography of Jackson by historian Arthur Schlesinger Jr. also conceded that Jackson’s policy toward the bank “removed a valuable brake on credit expansion… [and] accelerated the tendencies toward infl ation.” The domestic crisis was presumed to have primarily domestic causes.

But we forget, in looking only at errors in American policy, that its economy did not stand alone. The United States was only one component of a tightly integrated trans- Atlantic system of commerce and fi nance. The American economy was booming in large part because the much larger British economy, to which it was closely attached, was also booming. Investment in British cotton manufacturing was surging ahead. (So, too, was investment in other new technologies, such as railroads.) This meant higher demand for cotton and favorable prices for American producers. The American boom would never have started, and the bubble never infl ated, if it had not been for the fact that there was a heavy call for American cotton.

At the time, the British boom was explained as the happy result of the nation’s genius for invention and entrepreneurship. But credit also has to be given to meteorological luck. Britain enjoyed four extraordinary harvests between 1832 and 1835. As a result, the price of wheat fell by 40 percent from 1830 to 1835; wheat was cheaper than it had been for half a century. This was a boon for Britain’s working- class house holds, who spent twothirds of their income on food, and almost one- third on bread and fl our alone. Money not needed for food could be spent on clothing and other manufactures. This helped to maintain the price of cotton goods despite the rapid expansion of manufacturing capacity. And this, in turn, sustained the demand for American cotton.

The American economy was also inadvertently supercharged because of a lax policy on the part of the Bank of En gland, the so- called sun of the global credit system. One of the bank’s primary concerns was the protection of its reserve of bullion and coin, kept in the vaults of its London headquarters. When the harvest was poor, and food had to be imported, the reserve tended to decline, because gold was needed to settle accounts with foreign sellers of wheat and fl our. In such circumstances, the bank became protective of its reserve, mainly by purchasing bills of exchange at less favorable discounts. This pushed up the market rate of interest.

Of course, this was not the situation in the mid- 1830s. Harvests were good, and the volume of wheat imported in 1835 was only one- third of what it had been four years earlier. Until the summer of 1836 there was little pressure on the bank’s reserve. As a result, credit was easy. In retrospect it would become clear that the bank had underestimated the speed with which circumstances could change and its reserve could be drained. It kept rates too low for too long. While low rates in London encouraged investment in British manufacturing and railroads, it also drove British investors to look for better returns overseas. The American economy was an appealing prospect: growing rapidly,

similar in language and culture, closely connected to British manufacture and commerce, and more stable (or so it appeared) than some of the alternatives, such as Latin America or India. A high- grade American bond yielded a return of 5 or 6 percent per annum, while longterm British government bonds paid little more than 3 percent.

“In the choice of investments by moneyed men,” a British newspaper reported in 1836, “there has been… a very decided bias in favor of American securities, on account of the superior interest they yield compared with Government stocks and other modes for the employment of capital in Eu rope.” British lending to the United States surged in 1834– 1836. In 1833, total American foreign indebtedness was one hundred ten million dollars— not far from the average for the preceding two de cades. By 1836, it had doubled to two hundred twenty million dollars. This was an im mense stimulus to the American economy, and an important cause of the speculative fever in southern and western states. The amount of British capital fl ooding into the United States greatly exceeded the sums that the federal government was transferring to state banks.

Why did Americans tend to dwell so heavily on the domestic factors that contributed to the boom and bubble? There are several potential explanations. The fi rst is that the actions of the country’s own po liti cal leaders, publicized and debated in the nation’s newspapers, were more easily observed than those of overseas investors and fi nancial institutions. Simply because these actions were more likely to be monitored, they were also more likely to be identifi ed as the immediate explanation for the state of the economy.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Roberts, Alasdair. *America's First Great Depression: Economic Crisis and Political Disorder after the Panic of 1837*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2012.

Footnote citation:

Alasdair Roberts, *America's First Great Depression: Economic Crisis and Political Disorder after the Panic of 1837* (Cornell University Press, 2012), 35–36.

Shortened citation:

Roberts, *America's First Great Depression*, 35–36.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.79

The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis

Jessica M. Lepler

SELECTION	hapter 7 States of Suspense
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 230–231 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

In the spring of 1838, after angry debates between bankers throughout the nation, some banks resumed specie payments, inspiring hope that the nation's economy had recovered from the events of 1837. Americans imported fewer British goods than earlier, thus improving the balance of trade between the two nations and increasing optimism of Americans' ability to meet their obligations. Many banks appealed to state legislatures to gain the faith of the state as security for new loans. Internal improvement projects gained new resources from bond sales. British and Dutch investors bought state-backed bonds and stocks. In the South, banks became cotton factors; they sold the staple in Britain to balance their debts. The BUS took the lead.

Samuel Jaudon, the BUS's representative in London, served as a commission agent in Liverpool who both negotiated credit from English investors to finance the advances to planters and sold cotton at artificially high prices. Several British merchant banking houses, including the Lizardis, competed with the BUS for America's cotton. As a New Orleans agent for a Boston textile manufacturer reported at the end of December 1837, "There is nothing doing in Cotton – nearly all of that going forward to Europe is on [account] of the Bank." The BUS was winning control over the entire American cotton crop. Because of adverse environmental conditions that resulted in a small crop, this was easier in the winter of 1837 than it would have been in almost any other year. American cotton recovered 50 percent of its value. Prices for other goods returned to near pre-panic levels. Positive interpretations of the economy led to an inflow of British capital, increased cotton prices, and state expenditures.

By December 1838, one year after his earlier letter, the New Orleans agent of the Boston textile manufacturer recognized a problem. He complained to his correspondent of artificially high prices: "so much of the present crop will be under the control of the Banks & agents of European Houses that it is doubtful the article will decline, while speculation may enhance prices." The BUS's corner of the cotton market nearly succeeded, but environmental conditions in Britain affected the supply of credit.

In an exaggerated repeat of the events leading to the panic in 1837, millions of pounds sterling of specie exited the vaults of the BOE in 1839. This time, instead of blaming the American houses, the BOE directors recognized that a poor harvest necessitated wheat imports expending the national specie supply. To protect the currency of the country, the BOE directors again raised discount rates. A new wave of commercial failures traveled through the networks of commercial correspondents from London to New York to Canton and everywhere in between. Textile demand declined and cotton prices fell when British manufacturers stopped buying American cotton. The flow of capital into America began to dry up. The pressure on American money markets transformed into a commercial crisis. Pessimism replaced optimism.

In March 1839, the BUS suspended specie payments again; this time there would be no amendment to its charter. Instead, the assets and liabilities of the failed BUS would be settled over the next two years. The failure of the BUS triggered bank failures throughout much of the United States. In addition, payments on state loans floated before the panic in 1837 became due in Europe. States counted on profitability of internal improvement projects to fund the interest on these debts, but with less consumption of imports and lower prices, canals and railroads could not generate this income. Never receiving the final installment of the Distribution Act, many states experienced a shortfall in their capital supplies, which were pledged many times over to support the loans to statechartered banks.

Nine states defaulted on their loans. Foreign investors feared a general repudiation of state debts and drastically reduced the flow of capital and credit to the United States. Even the BOE needed Barings to negotiate a loan from the Bank of France to protect British currency from what had become a global crisis. Although the actual crisis in 1837 was more acute, the panic in 1839 brought on the worst deflation Americans had yet experienced. The English called the years that followed "the hungry forties."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lepler, Jessica M. *The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Jessica M. Lepler, *The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis* (Cambridge University Press, 2013), 230–231.

Shortened citation:

Lepler, *The Many Panics of 1837*, 230–231.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.80

The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	arvelous Improvements Everywhere
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 91–92 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

When the men and women who experienced this whirling phenomenon began to feel giddy, they had a good chance of seeing it as thrilling rather than alarming or clearly dangerous. Falling together in the 1850s with a suddenness that startled most observers, all these disparate changes and adaptations seemed to assemble themselves into a giant, interlocking network of institutions, expectations, and behaviors that all found their coordination in market forces. With prices set by impersonal market mechanisms, vendors no longer dickered with their customers. Market quotations from New York, New Orleans, or even London seemed to establish the value of everything in the most remote country villages. Banks, transportation companies, insurers, and large mercantile houses held the better cards in whatever bargaining went on in these complex commercial networks, leaving the individual entrepreneur on the defensive, afraid of being bested, and determined to recover his losses from the next most vulnerable "chump" in the game.

Whatever mutuality may have existed in the "moral economy" of traditional networks of community exchange (and there clearly was some), it was disappearing from the commercial culture of the antebellum United States (especially in the North) as the sectional conflict drew nearer. The impact of this progress, of course, was never uniform: Real people suffered absolute as well as relative distresses under this chaotic economic regime. From time to time, when the business cycle triggered a panic or a downturn in trade, a chorus of voices rose to protest the destruction of traditions, the loss of brotherhood, the heartless triumph of naked greed. But the return of prosperity generally rekindled people's optimism, boosted their expectations, and buoyed the hope of so many (sometimes against available evidence) that every American stood to gain from the market revolution. Many Americans believed, at almost every step along the path through this wonderland of change, that progress energized their birthright of liberty, and that the benefits of freedom lay not in fighting what seemed inevitable, but in riding the tiger into a future they hoped would reward their acquiescence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good* (Cambridge University Press, 2009), 91–92.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *The Market Revolution in America*, 91–92.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.81

The Jacksonian Economy

Peter Temin

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 79–80 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1969.

Excerpt

1834, the official price of gold in the United States was raised from 15 to 16 times the price of silver. The price of gold in terms of silver in the United States became slightly higher than the price in England, and it was more profitable to import gold than silver into the United States as a result.Consequently, the gold par between pounds and dollars became the equilibrium rate, and only when the exchange rate fell below the gold par minus the cost of shipping was it profitable to ship gold to the United States in return for the shipment of bills in the opposite direction. Turning to the data, we find that in addition to the data on bills of exchange used before, there are estimates of the exchange rate for 1835 and later years derived by adding the interest charge to the price of bills. Neither set of data indicates that the pound was undervalued enough to induce a flow of specie in any year except 1834.[34]

Macesich's explanation fails fundamentally because it looks in the wrong place for the sources of the specie. The specie stock rose because of specie imports, but most of the imports were not from Europe. Table 3. shows the imports of specie for the l 830's, broken down by country of origin and by the metal involved.[35]Only in three years during the 1830's were there imports of specie from Europe. The inflow from Europe in

1834 has already been discussed. The inflow in 1836 repre-:,ented the payment of the French indemnity that had been controversial in 1833.[36]And the inflow in 1838 came after the inflation had ended. Most of the specie had to come for reasons other than the undervaluation of the pound.

The source of the specie is apparent from Table 3.5. Most of it came from Mexico, with imports from various Latin American countries adding to the flow. [37]In the 1820's, the inflow of silver from Mexico and Latin America was offset by an outflow to Asia. This balance was destroyed in the 1830's by a small rise in the imports from Mexico and a larger fall in the specie exports to China.

Silver was a commodity export for Mexico, and the increase in its quantity during the mid-1830's was probably due to an increase in supply. The price of silver was fixed in terms of American currency, and the American inflation reduced the quantity of goods bought by a unit of silver. Consequently, the added imports from Mexico were not produced 'by offers of higher prices for them. s

The decline in the exports of silver to China and Asia was large enough to make the annual amount of silver retained from the Mexican imports rise from a very small amount in the late

1820's to about $4 million in the l 830's, contributing about $20 million of silver to the American stock of specie between 1831 and 1836. The Chinese were increasing their consumption of opium in the 1830's, and they abandoned their traditional desire for silver in favor of a demand for bills on London to buy opium from British India.

Author's Notes

34. Smith and Cole, p. 190; Davis and Hughes. Davis and Hughes' series for the exchange rate start only in 1835; before that they present bill prices.

35. The yearly totals do not match exactly the changes in the specie stock shown in Table 3.3, but over the decade they are very close. The discrepancies are discussed in detail in the Appendix.

36. U. S. Congress, Senate Document 351, 25th Congress, 2nd Session (1837-38), pp. 124-25.

37. The inflow from Mexico was almost entirely in specie (coin) rather than bullion, as Mexican coins were legal tender in the United States. See Arthur Nussbaum, A History of the Dollar (New York: Columbia University Press, 1957), pp. 56, 62, 84; and Sources for

Table 3.5.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Temin, Peter. *The Jacksonian Economy*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Peter Temin, *The Jacksonian Economy* (W. W. Norton, 1969), 79–80.

Shortened citation:

Temin, *The Jacksonian Economy*, 79–80.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.82

Martin Van Buren

Ted Widmer

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

But the Democratic response was inconsistent. Predictably, Jackson agreed with the prevailing Western feeling that there was too much loose money in the economy and that speculators should be brought down a notch. Hence the infamous Specie Circular, a presidential directive in 1836 that forced all land to be purchased in hard currency, and Jackson's bitter war against Nicholas Biddle and the Bank of the United States (which may have restrained irresponsible speculation, despite Jackson's arguments). But many other Democrats felt uncomfortable with Jackson's simple hardmoney remedies and worried about the constriction of credit that would follow. Unlike him, they felt that banks—especially state banks—were useful if they did their jobs properly, and they saw no need to impose eighteenth-century solutions on a booming nineteenth-century economy. To add to the confusion, the Democrats pursued a number of policies that fueled the very speculation they disliked, including the conversion of a federal deficit into a $28 million surplus, all of which was sent back directly to the states.

To sum up the situation, then, Van Buren inherited a superheated economy that was completely unregulated in some ways and draconically controlled in others. Even among his closest supporters, there was deep division over what the government should do to stimulate or suppress growth. The Whig opposition, on the other hand, felt cynicism toward anyone who claimed to be the heir of Jackson, and argued that the destruction of the Bank had eliminated what might have been a useful instrument of fiscal control (that point is still disputed by historians). There was too much loose credit and inflation in an economy that had become badly overextended through greed and speculation, and an unfavorable balance of trade with England deepened instability. All this added up to a tinderbox waiting for a match. The match was lit when a number of problems in England and Ireland forced a demand for payments from American bankers, who were unable to find the money to fulfill their obligations. To make matters worse, the price of cotton fell, and other crop failures further reduced the shrinking amount of credit available on Wall Street. Van Buren never knew what hit him.

Once confidence is lost, of course, it is nearly impossible to restore. The Congressional Globe recorded that "distrust seized upon the public mind like fire in the great prairies." Across the nation, a dark shroud now fell across what had seemed like a limitless future. With no credit available, no business could be started. Bankruptcies were recorded in huge numbers. Massive unemployment resulted (twenty thousand out of work in New York City), and almshouses had to turn away hundreds of deserving families. Ships listed idly in their berths. Breadwinners became beggars. Many died of starvation. Herman Melville's older brother Gansevoort lost his business, leaving the fatherless family penniless. Herman's decision to go to sea was a direct result of his poverty, so the cosmic rage of Moby- Dick is also traceable to the Panic of 1837.

This economic disaster soon became a political disaster as well. It took no time at all for the Whigs to blame President Van Buren, of course. He was guilty by association with Jackson, and he was also vulnerable to the charge that the government did little to relieve popular misery. A Whig paper pointed out the melancholy truth, the awful truth, that the administration did nothing to relieve the distress." Things got so bad that Van Buren began drinking a potion of soot and water to calm his dyspepsia.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Widmer, Ted. *Martin Van Buren*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Ted Widmer, *Martin Van Buren* (Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Widmer, *Martin Van Buren*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.83

The Age of Jackson

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr.

SELECTION	THE AGE OF JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 192–193 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1945.

Excerpt

Labor was also beginning to organize in the economic field.

strike in the spring of 1833 led progressively to the formation of a General Trades Union. By the end of the year, twenty-one societies and four thousand workers were marching in a Union parade.'

Ely Moore of the Typographical Association, first president of the Union, was the outstanding leader. A sallow, restless man, with keen, nervous eyes and long black hair brushed back from his forehead, well dressed, often carrying a heavy ivory-headed cane, he enjoyed a tremendous reputation for eloquence. He first appeared as an enemy of the "Christian Party," declaring that Colonel Johnson 'had done more for ^'pure and unadulterated democracy, than any man in our country — by arresting the schemes of an ambitious, irreligious priesthood." ® But by 1833, like other labor leaders, he was beginning to decide that democracy was facing graver perils.

The imminent danger, "which threatens the stabihty of our government, and the Hberty of the people," he told the General Trades' Union, ^^is an undue accumulation and distribution of wealth." How could this be checked.' Only "by unity of purpose, and concert of action, on the part of the producing classesy If such unity could secure to the laboring men "a fair, certain, and equitable compensation for their toil and skill, we insure a more just and equal distribution of wealth than can ever be effected by statutory law." Trade-unions, by promoting a more healthful distribution of property, thus helped preserve the economic foundations of democracy. The situation, Moore insisted, was growing urgent. "As the Hne of distinction between the employer and employed is widened, the condition of the latter inevitably verges toward a state of vassalage... hostile to the best interests of the community, as well as to the spirit and genius of our government."^ In 1834 the General Trades' Union, encouraged by the flurry of labor organization through the East, issued a call for a national convention. Through five hot August days, thirty earnest men were gathered in New York to found the National Trades' Union. This control over local unions, but its meetings brought labor leaders together for a valuable exchange of ideas and co-ordination of effort.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Footnote citation:

Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Little, Brown, 1945), 192–193.

Shortened citation:

Schlesinger, *The Age of Jackson*, 192–193.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.84

A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America

Brian Balogh

SELECTION	Outside the Boundaries
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 215–216 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

The most explicit and impassioned defense of national prerogative was delivered by Andrew Jackson in the controversy over nullification at the end of his first administration. Jackson's hand was forced by a South Carolina nullification convention assembled shortly after Jackson's reelection in 1832. It asserted the right of any state to nullify legislation passed by an oppressive majority in Congress. The right of nullification, in turn, was based on the assertion that the union was formed from a compact between states. The government created by that compact could never contravene state sovereignty. The nullification furor began in reaction to the "tariff of abominations," passed during the summer of 1828. Even though Jackson subsequently pushed through a tariff that was only mildly protective, the damage had been done and, at least in minds of a majority of South Carolina voters, nullification was still necessary.'** Jackson was willing to compromise on the tariff issue but he was not prepared to bend his interpretation of constitutional principles. He issued a special proclamation in December 1832 that rejected the notion that the constitution was formed by a compact of sovereign states.

"The Constitution of the United States... forms a government, not a league," Jackson insisted. No state had the power to repudiate laws passed by Congress. To grant such a power would ultimately lead to disunion. Jackson had already backed up his interpretation of the Constitution by ordering federal facilities in Charleston to brace for attacks and by sending revenue cutters farther off shore, where they were to continue collecting duties.'"? The real test came in other Southern states where feelings about the tariff and the nature of federal union also ran strong. One by one, these states backed away from outright support for nullification. A compromise was reached on the new tariff rates that adjusted them downward gradually until 1842, when they were to drop precipitously. Politically isolated, South Carolina eventually pulled back from the brink. "[N] ullification is dead; and its actors and exciters will only be remembered by the people to be execrated for their wicked designs," Jackson wrote shortly after the crisis was defused. This was an accurate enough assessment for the time being.

More prescient, however, were the words of a South Carolinian who had opposed the actions of many of his fellow citizens. "Nullification has done its work," James Petigru warned. "It has prepared the minds of men for a separation of the States — and when the question is mooted again it will be distinctly union or disunion."'° The crisis over nullification sharpened the divide between those who sought to circumscribe the authority of General Government and

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Balogh, Brian. *A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Brian Balogh, *A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America* (Cambridge University Press, 2009), 215–216.

Shortened citation:

Balogh, *A Government Out of Sight*, 215–216.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.85

The Presidency of Andrew Jackson

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	Defending the Union
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 160–161 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Excerpt

Six days after his annual message Jackson swung abruptly toward the nationalists by issuing his Nullification Proclamation. The presi dent wanted a forceful, moral statement against nullification because he strongly opposed it and because Poinsett had warned that the Unionists needed support. When Kendall's draft proved too legalistic, the presi dent called on Blair, Cass, and especially Livingston, who had delivered an effective speech defending both states' rights and the concept of the Union during the Webster-Hayne debate. The president also took the unusual step of writing a draft himself. He wrote so furiously with a large steel pen that when he had finished fifteen or twenty pages, an observer noted that the last three still glistened with wet ink. Jackson turned the draft and related notes and documents over to Livingston, but even he failed to satisfy, and the president asked him to make revi sions after reading his version. Jackson sat up until almost midnight on the evening of 4 December writing a conclusion, which he sent to Livingston with a note. Let the proclamation, he said, "receive your best flight of eloquence." Livingston rewrote the president's conclusion, but the thrust and feeling of the entire document was unmistakably Jackson's.

Still contemptuous of nullification, Jackson opened the proclama tion by ridiculing the nullifiers' "strange position," calling it absurd in three places. He warned of establishing a dangerous precedent; if tariff collection could be stopped in Charleston, it could be stopped in every other port. Taking sharp issue with states' lighters, even with his own position in his annual message, he attacked the nullifiers' premises. The Union, he wrote, had existed in late colonial America before the states were formed. Not the states but the people of the United States, "acting through the State legislatures... and in separate conventions," had drawn up and ratified the Constitution. The people, not the states, were represented in the presidency and in the House of Representatives. The Constitution formed "a government, not a league." He refuted the nul lifiers' doctrine of undivided state sovereignty, declaring that the states had "surrendered many of their essential parts of sovereignty" to the central government. Jackson's description of a perpetual Union was so compelling that Abraham Lincoln used it as the model for his first inau gural address.

Jackson's turn toward such a nationalistic interpretation of the Union shocked observers and has perplexed students of the era. The reaction to the proclamation was so intense that most of the state legisla tures passed resolutions establishing their position on the constitutional issues involved. John Quincy Adams was particularly dismayed by "the glaring inconsistencies of principle" between the annual message and the proclamation. According to Adams, Jackson advocated states' rights and low tariffs in his annual message because of pressure from the slave holding South but then issued the proclamation because of his hatred of Calhoun. Some students of the Nullification Crisis, however, have ar gued that Jackson was not inconsistent and that he designed the procla mation in order to distinguish his own traditional states'-rights views from the more extreme views of the nullifiers.

There is some merit to this view. Theoretically the doctrine of the supremacy of the Union did not necessarily contradict the states'-rights belief in a restricted central government. In his republicanism Jackson believed that the best way to maintain a strong nation was to keep the central government weak. But he did not make that argument in his proclamation, and he did a poor job of defending the traditional states'rights position. He refused to accept the compact theory of government on which the doctrine of states' rights was based and failed to explain the concept of reserved state powers. Just as in his toast at the Jefferson Day dinner when he omitted the word "federal" in the phrase "our federal Union," he went too far in his nationalism. Only this time he did it deliberately. Intent on winning over the people and suppressing nul lification, he overstated his case. He left too strong an impression that sovereignty rested with the people, not with the states, and that nul lification meant secession and treason. The patriotic fervor of his na tionalism rang out at the end of the proclamation when he called on the people of South

Carolina to turn away from "treason" and "show that the descendants of the Pinckneys, the Sumpters, the Rutledges... will not abandon that Union to support which so many of them fought and bled and died."18

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*. American Presidency Series. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson* (University Press of Kansas, 1993), 160–161.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*, 160–161.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.86

Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes

Gerard N. Magliocca

SELECTION	hapter Four
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 56–57 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Excerpt

The Bank Veto not only dismissed M'Culloch as irrelevant; it attacked the chief justice's reasoning supporting implied federal power. For example, the Court asserted that the Constitution did not restrict the means that Congress could use to carry out its power. The president disagreed. He explained that "on two subjects only does the Constitution recognize in Congress the power to grant exclusive privileges or monopolies.... Out of this express delegation of power have grown our laws of patents and copyrights."** Since Article One, Section Eight, said that this means was authorized only to support those ends, Jackson concluded that "it is consistent with the fair rules of construction to conclude that such a power was not intended to be granted as a means of accomplishing any other end."*? That view oozed with bias against federal action. One could easily see Marshall taking the same text as proof that Congress was given this means and that it was not specifically withheld elsewhere. The Veto Message also argued that the Bank was an unconstitutional means because Congress could not delegate its authority to a private corporation without close public oversight.

Invoking the text of the Necessary and Proper Clause, Jackson said that "the Government is the only 'proper' judge where its agents should reside and keep their offices.... It can not, therefore be 'necessary' or 'proper' to authorize the bank to locate branches where it pleases to perform the public service, without consulting the government."" He also said that the Bank was not a valid way for Congress to exercise its power to "coin money," contending that this "was conferred to be exercised by themselves, and not to 56 At the core of this claim was the Jacksonian be transferred to a corporation. principle that personal freedom was jeopardized whenever the federal establishment passed into the hands of wealthy elites." This message of class equality, which fired the imagination of this generation of reformers, set up the Bank Veto's ringing peroration. Framing his campaign there for the fall, Jackson characterized the traditional constitution as hopelessly corrupt:

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Magliocca, Gerard N. *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Gerard N. Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes* (University Press of Kansas, 2007), 56–57.

Shortened citation:

Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution*, 56–57.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.87

Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	FOUR MORE YEARS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 107–108 · Supplied edition: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Excerpt

For Jackson, democracy for white men was the first key to preserving the Union, and he elevated the direct voice of the majority to a nearly divine status. “Never for a moment believe,” he admonished, “that the great body of the citizens of any State or States can ever deliberately intend to do wrong.” The reason was simple: Wrongdoing would inevitably injure the people themselves, so “their own interest requires them to be just to others, as they hope to receive justice at their hands.” For majority rule to work, however, the will of the majority must have teeth. Unjust or unconstitutional laws could be repealed by Congress or voided by the courts, but until then even bad laws represented the voice of the majority and must be obeyed by the minority. There could be no revival of nullification if the Union were to last.

Jackson did acknowledge that some future act of unspecified oppression might justify a revolution by the minority against the majority. Whether he would have regarded the election of an antislavery president like Abraham Lincoln as an oppressive act by a nonslaveholding majority against a slaveholding minority is obviously impossible to determine. Certainly many of his southern followers later saw Lincoln’s election in exactly that light and seceded from the Union in 1860-61 with the firm belief that their actions were consistent with Jackson’s legacy.

Whatever Old Hickory might have thought about the crisis of 1860-61, he was certainly dead set against abolitionism and moved directly from the theoretical discussion of revolution to a stern rebuke of antislavery agitation. The Union depended on fraternal harmony as much as laws, he observed, and urged his fellow citizens not to damage it by criticizing the local practices of other states. “All efforts on the part of people of other States to cast odium upon their institutions, and all measures calculated to disturb their rights of property or to put in jeopardy their peace and internal tranquillity, are in direct opposition to the spirit in which the Union was formed, and must endanger its safety.” Though he stood with Lincoln for an indissoluble Union, in other words, Jackson believed in a Union where the doctrines of abolitionism would be unmentionable and slavery remained sacrosanct.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America*. Boston: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America* (Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998), 107–108.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay*, 107–108.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.88

Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	BERTY AND POWER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 190–191 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1990.

Excerpt

Like the Anti-Masons, the Working Men failed to sustain themselves aS a permanent political force, though they brought lasting consequences to the emerging system of party politics. Ideological divisions within the group led to the expulsion of Skidmore and his radical followers, while a group of pro-tariff master mechanics quarreled with the supporters of Frances Wright and Robert Dale Owen over control of the organization's remnants. Disillusioned journeymen lost interest in the factional squabbling and the movement's energies dissipated, but New York's militant artisans did not give up their struggle for what they regarded as genuine republican equality.

Shifting from politics to organizing in the workplace, nine urban labor unions came together in 1833 to form the General Trades Union of the City of New York. Under its aegis, more than fifty unions and forty strikes were launched to protest wages and working conditions in the years of skyrocketing inflation that marked the Jackson Presidency. By the time the trades union movement peaked in 1836, perhaps as many as one half to two thirds of the workers in the city were organized, a higher proportion than at any time in the nineteenth century.

The rapid development of New York's labor movement was hardly unique. Philadelphia mechanics had formed their own citywide Mechanics Union of Trade Associations in 1827 and their own Working Men's Party in 1828, followed by the General Trades Union of the City and County of Philadelphia in 1834. At its height, the Philadelphia GTU embraced over fifty individual unions with a membership of ten thousand workers, Similar movements spread up and down the East Coast in the boom years of the 1830s, when journeymen everywhere felt squeezed by inflation and hardening class distinctions. The Working Men's Party of Boston took shape in 1830, while the more long-lived New England Association of Farmers, Mechanics, and Other Working Men first assembled in Providence in 1831 and pledged to defend the ten-hour day. Similar groups appeared in Newark and Trenton in New Jersey and in Troy, Rochester, Buffalo, and about a dozen smaller towns in New York, as well as in scattered places in Ohio, Delaware, Connecticut, Massachusetts, New Hampshire, Maine, and Vermont.

Historians have disputed whether all of the members of these organizations were truly entitled to the name of ""workingmen" or whether their movement can truly be regarded as an expression of wage earners' concerns. Some of the leaders or nominees of 'Working Men's" political parties were no doubt sympathetic or opportunistic politicians, intellectuals, or professionals and not manual laborers themselves. Many were also straitened small masters who felt the sting of economic hardship and made common cause with journeymen even though they were also owners of capital and small-scale employers of labor. Given the rapidly changing nature of manufacturing in this era, and particularly the probability that a marginal master might quickly find himself back in the ranks of journeymen, it is probably best not to insist on an overly rigorous definition of ""workingman"' before passing judgment on the validity of these movements. The widespread character of their activities and the intensity of their calls for change adequately testify to the depth of feelings roused by the changing prospects for equality in Jacksonian cities, and to the genuine popular assumption that republican government was a legitimate avenue of defense.

In New York and elsewhere, the Jacksonian union movement fell victim to hard times. In February 1837 hungry men and women in Manhattan forsook the discipline of the strike and the picket line for the direct action of a flour riot. A month later, the Panic of 1837 hit the city and as many as one third of the city's wage earners quickly lost their jobs.

Always difficult to sustain, workers' organizations fell apart in the ensuing depression, as former union members agreed to any terms to find or keep work. In the aftermath of the panic, moreover, professional politicians in each party sharpened their ideological programs and perfected their organizational apparatus until it became well-nigh impossible for a thirdparty effort by laborers or anyone else to gain a foothold. The two-party system was building its own monopoly of public discourse.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America*. Updated ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2006.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America* (Hill and Wang, 1990), 190–191.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Liberty and Power*, 190–191.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.89

American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House

Jon Meacham

SELECTION	With the Feelings of a Father * xvii
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Random House, 2008.

Excerpt

With the feelings ofa father. Jackson's familial vision had intriguing im-

For President Jackson, it meant that there was little difference between the personal and the political. His was a White House roiled by intrigue, war, and sexual scandal, and it left a permanent mark on the nation. This book is not a history of the Age of Jackson but a portrait of the man and of his comformed the presidency. The story of Jackson's life and of his White House years is of his long, unrelenting war to keep his family and his country safe—a long, unrelenting war that helped shape the way we live now.

one of America's most important and most controversial presidents, Andrew Jackson is also one of our least understood. Recalled mainly as the scourge of the Indians or as the hero of the 1815 Battle of New Orleans, he is only dimly remembered in the popular imagination, too far out of mind to Yet of the great early presidents and Founders, Andrew Jackson is in many ways the most like us. In the saga of the Jackson presidency, one marked by both democratic triumphs and racist tragedies, we can see the American character in formation and in action. To understand him and his time helps Us to understand America's perennially competing impulses.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Meacham, Jon. *American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House*. New York: Random House, 2008.

Footnote citation:

Jon Meacham, *American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House* (Random House, 2008), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Meacham, *American Lion*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.90

The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis

Richard E. Ellis

SELECTION	Virginia and the Nullification Crisis
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 131–132 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

The general reaction to the Proclamation placed Jackson's Virginia supporters on the defensive. Many of them shared the widespread uneasiness that existed over the President's newfound constitutional nationalism. Some tried to explain it away. One writer, for example, noted "I felt and still feel assured that these doctrines were advanced not for the purpose of enlarging the powers of the Federal government, or of covering any abuse of power contemplated by those who now administer it, but that they were laid down in the way of abstract propositions to sustain a favorite argument." Other writers, admitting they had reservations about the Proclamation, defended the President's overall record on states' rights, warned about over reacting to what was, in effect, only a difference of opinion on the history of the formation of the Constitution and not on its meaning, and they gave assurances that in his coming inaugural address Jackson would declare strongly for states' rights and clear up the various misconceptions that existed over his political creed.

The Proclamation not only put the President's supporters on the defensive, it also divided them. While some tried to defend and excuse Jackson's constitutional excesses and ferocity toward South Carolina, others were critical. The latter group included Thomas Ritchie who, although he continued to denounce Calhoun and nullification, openly declared when he saw the Proclamation that "there are some doctrinal points to which... we cannot subscribe." He called on Jackson to recant his views and recognize that states have the right to secede in extreme cases and to acknowledge explicitly the nature of the federal compact to be such that the states have a right to pass upon the manner in which the federal government exercises certain specified powers and to interpose as Virginia had done in 1799. When Jackson refused to do this, Ritchie continued to attack the principles of the Proclamation in the Enquirer. He came out against the passage of the Force Bill and in favor of an immediate lowering of the tariff so as to compromise the crisis and avoid the "extremes of federal encroachment on the one hand, and to stem the headlong current of nullification on the other." Ritchie and the Enquirer had a national reputation, and the President's opponents and the nullifiers made much of his unwillingness to endorse either the Proclamation or the administration's hard-line attitude toward South Carolina.

The Proclamation also caused the disaffection of John Randolph of Roanoke. A feisty, independent, and extremely difficult and eccentric individual, who, aside from his own local constituency, did not have any real power base or any special influence with the Jackson administration, Randolph nonetheless was a national figure as a consequence of his long standing and consistent advocacy of states' rights and opposition to Jeffersonian nationalism and the American System. He supported Jackson in 1828 and was an outspoken critic of Calhoun and nullification. But he did not want to see the federal government use force against South Carolina, and in early December 1832 he urged Jackson to act cautiously.

Literally dying at the time, Randolph was so outraged by the Proclamation that he got off his death bed to campaign against it. He took sharp issue with the President's claim that the states had parted with their sovereignty when they entered the Union, argued that the people's allegiance should first be to their respective states and defended the right of a state to secede "whenever she shall find the benefits of Union exceeded its evils, Union being the Means of securing liberty and happiness and not an END, to which these should be sacrificed." At no point did he defend nullification in the abstract or South Carolina's actions in particular, but he did make clear his belief that simply because Jackson advocated something did not necessarily make it right. Under Randolph's leadership a resolution

was adopted at a popular meeting got up at the Charlotte County Court House stating: "that while we utterly reprobate the doctrine of nullification as equally weak and mischievious, we cannot for that reason give our countenance to principles equally unfounded and in the highest degree dangerous to the liberties of the people."

The open estrangement of such prominent states' rights spokesmen as Ritchie and Randolph over the Proclamation was a boon to those who argued that the main threat to the Union was Jackson and not South Carolina. These same people generally hoped to see the issues of the crisis polarized in such a way that the middle of the readers and the confused would end up supporting the course of the nullifiers if not actually endorsing their doctrine. The effect of the President's Proclamation in Virginia, said one observer, "dissatisfied his friends, and encouraged his enemies. It has given new spirit to the friends of nullification—and drawn many a secret and insidious adder from his hole." A different writer noted "the strong denunciation of the Proclamation shows that Virginia has at length thrown off the nightmare of Jacksonianism, which has been holding her in horrid sleep, while her ancient principles were gradually stolen away. The idolatry of men is superseded by the worship of principle...."Along these lines the people of Virginia were appealed to in the following manner: "the hour of trial has arrived—the hour which is to test the sincerity of your... devotion to state rights. You can take no neutral position. Inaction on your part is death to your principles. The cause of South Carolina is your cause. If she sinks you must sink with her." A similar argument was directed at the legislature then in session:

We beg to remind the Legislature, that the true question is not now, whether nullification be right or wrong; but whether having nullified, and in the new state of things.... Virginia will consent that South Carolina shall be put to the bayonet; whether that does not involve inevitable consolidation; whether it does not become her to announce in a firm voice, that she will consent to no such course; whether if the Legislature does not take this stand forthwith the blood of S. Carolina will not be on their head and the loss of public liberty fairly chargeable to their pusillanimity. Let the veto of Virginia against military force be pronounced firmly and respectfully, and extremes need not be feared.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ellis, Richard E. *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Richard E. Ellis, *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 131–132.

Shortened citation:

Ellis, *The Union at Risk*, 131–132.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.91

Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	Andrew Jackson and His Indian Wars
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 212–213 · Supplied edition: Viking, 2001.

Excerpt

It is because the Indians knew that Jackson was eminently fair with respect to the distribution of annuities (especially in protecting the poor) and in carrying out the conditions of treaty agreements that they regularly came to him at the Hermitage or wrote him when they had complaints about the treatment they had received from either agents or the government. They knew he could be severe and harsh, but they also knew he would be fair and protect their rights. And he did not hesitate to demand the arrest and imprisonment of whites who violated treaty agreements.

Indian chiefs were not his only visitors during the months following his return from Florida. Once he was home and retired from the army, various friends and Tennessee politicians began talking to him about his future. Not surprisingly, the local newspaper in Nashville suggested his name as a possible successor to President Monroe, a suggestion quickly repeated by other newspapers in other states. By mid-1822 it was a foregone conclusion that his name would be formally advanced for the presidency, and on June 27, Felix Grundy, a local state representative, wrote and informed him that his many friends in Tennessee wanted to know whether there was any reason or cause which "would render it improper" for them to bring his name forward "for the office of Chief Magistrate of the U States at the approaching Election."!

Jackson's position on this subject was one he had long ago adopted. He would remain silent. "The voice of the people I am told would bring me to the Presidential chair," he wrote, "and it is probable, some of the Legislatures may bring my name before the Public. —but I have long since determined to be perfectly Silent—I never have been a candidate for office, I never will." The people, of course, have a right "to call for any mans services in a republican government—and when they do, it is the duty of the individual, to yield his services to that call." That sentiment had always been his belief, even when ill and tired and almost overwhelmed with the criticisms leveled at him for his actions as a general and Indian commissioner. "I will be silent—neither sayi[ng] aye, or nay, altho I have been often solicite[d]." As for the presidency, he would serve if summoned but he would not actively seek the office.'* Accordingly, on July 20, the Tennessee legislature formally nominated Andrew Jackson for President of the United States.

Simultaneously, there were a number of other developing candidacies aspiring to Monroe's chair, most of whom sat in the cabinet. To start, there was John Quincy Adams, who, as secretary of state, occupied the position that traditionally led straight to the presidency. Then there was William H. Crawford, the secretary of the treasury, who graciously, but foolishly, stepped aside in 1816, expecting Monroe to name him as successor—which of course Monroe did not. Finally, there was John C. Calhoun of South Carolina, the secretary of war. So, sneered the general, there they are, "all up for the Presidency, and he [Monroe] sits and looks on" without saying or doing anything. "Was I President I would Remove all who have come out as candidates for the Presidency—and fill my Cabinet with those whose whole time could be devoted to the duties of their office, and not to intrigue for the Presidency."!° Thus began the long process to place General Andrew Jackson in the White House. But it did not come quickly, or with the ease that so many people predicted.

The Tennessee legislature might nominate him, but the traditional nominating engine, a congressional caucus, rejected the bid put forward by the general's friends and handed the prize to William H. Crawford. Some men had urged an end to caucus nominations, but they failed to take into account the political astuteness of Senator Martin Van Buren of New York, who succeeded in winning this nomination for Crawford, albeit with a much reduced number of participants in the caucus. Eventually there were five candidates: Adams, Crawford, Calhoun, Jackson,

and the distinguished Speaker of the House of Representatives, Henry Clay, a man Old Hickory despised.

Shortly thereafter, Calhoun's candidacy collapsed when Pennsylvania came out in support of Jackson. The secretary needed a strong northern endorsement, and without it he recognized the hopelessness of his candidacy and agreed to stand for the vice presidency instead.

To increase his visibility as a statesman and silence those who contended that the general lacked valid credentials for the presidency, Jackson's friends in Tennessee decided to run him for the office of U.S. senator against the incumbent, John Williams, a very vocal critic of Old Hickory's negotiations with the Chickasaws and his record as territorial governor of Florida. Although it took a great deal of hustling to round up the necessary votes, since Williams had already received a number of pledges of support, the Hero was elected to the U.S. Senate on October 1, 1823, by the narrow vote of 35 to 2s in the state legislature.!° The narrowness of the vote rankled, but Jackson took some comfort in the fact that of the twenty-five men who voted against him only three were reelected in the next election. "Every intrigue that could exist," he told his friend John Coffee, "—& indeed corruption was resorted to" by Williams's friends to defeat me. "I am a senator against my wishes & feelings—but from my political creed...] am compelled to accept."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. Andrew Jackson and His Indian Wars. New York: Viking, 2001.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars* (Viking, 2001), 212–213.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Andrew Jackson & His Indian Wars*, 212–213.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.92

Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	Andrew Jackson and the Bank War
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 46–47 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Excerpt

him. However, there is some evidence to suggest that Jackson's bank policy lost him more votes in the election than it gained him.5* Many people and party leaders turned away from him because of his policy, and it was not until Biddle retaliated by curtailing loans and precipitating an economic panic in the winter of 1833-34 that the people came to recognize the merit of Jackson's complaints. In view of the considerable pro-Bank sympathy within the country and within Congress, it is remarkable that Jackson succeeded in destroying the BUS. If nothing else, it is a tribute to his consummate political skill in handling the electorate and the members of Congress.

Still, if Jackson was such an astute politician, and if he had any inkling of popular feeling about the Bank, why did he risk his reelection over the issue of recharter? Undoubtedly the reasons are varied; and to some extent he had little choice given Biddle's application for renewal in 1832. But perhaps the most important reason was Jackson's own wish to buttress presidential power with mass support—something never done before—and whether that support was given because of the issue itself or because of his enormous personal popularity was quite irrelevant. Once he had obtained mass approval he could then confront Congress with vastly strengthened institutional prerogatives, escalate the War if he chose, and, most important of all, force greater control over the direction of public affairs.

The changes Jackson inaugurated in the presidency introduces the final question involved in the War, namely the longrange effects of the destruction of the Bank upon the country and its institutions. Again, historians are sharply divided: some in-_ sist that Jackson's arrogance wrecked a splendid organization and initiated a century of unsound finance that made possible the chaotic business conditions of the Gilded Age; °' others applaud the destruction of the Bank as a needed action against an overprivileged corporation that had the ability and sometimes the will to hobble business and bully the government.®* But whatever interpretation one adopts, the fact is undeniable that Jackson's War against the Bank profoundly enhanced the power of the presidency. Even if he was wrong in crushing the monster, when curbing it would have been sufficient, even if he launched the country upon a long period of economic instability—and these are by no means certain—it is indisputable that Jackson, by his actions, transformed and permanently strengthened the executive arm of the government.

Once Jackson marked the Bank for execution, he made good his intention, this despite tremendous opposition both within and without his party. What state legislatures, state courts, and sundry individuals had repeatedly attempted and failed to do, he accomplished. It was no mean feat to pull down the BUS. Because the Bank was a powerful agency, well entrenched in the country, it would not disappear just because the President wished it to. His accomplishment, therefore, was more than a personal victory, more than a tribute to his popularity, and more than a testament to his abilities as a politician. It was an acknowledgment of the enhancement of presidential power.

As Jackson implemented executive prerogatives in his pursuit of the Bank, some citizens became deeply alarmed. They denounced him as a dictator, labeled him "King Andrew I," and mourned the passing of constitutional government. Some even contended that he had weakened the presidency by his aggressiveness because he had set an impossible standard for his successors who would (and often did) shrink from using the powers he had acquired for the executive office. All the same, once the powers were exercised they were available, ready to be employed again by such future strong Presidents as Lincoln, the Roosevelts, Wilson, and Truman. In other words there was genuine institutional growth of the presidency under Jackson, not simply an expansion of power that contracted to its

previous size after he left office.

The Bank War had another long-range effect. It reemphasized the Jacksonian concept that the President is the only elective officer of the national government representing all the people. Members of Congress represented states, fragments of states,

Author's Notes

56. Remini, Jackson, 154-156. See also an analysis of the election in chapter IV of this book.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power* (W. W. Norton, 1967), 46–47.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War*, 46–47.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.93

Andrew Jackson

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

Congress's approval of the Force Bill was all but assured, due to Jacksonian control of the House and the divisions between nullifiers and southern moderates in the Senate. And so, in somewhat clouded circumstances, the nullifiers quietly cut a deal whereby they would forswear their efforts to block the bill's passage and Congress would assent to the compromise tariff. When both measures passed, Calhoun took the Senate floor and delivered one last eloquent (and irrelevant) denunciation of the Force Bill. Thereafter, he left Washington directly for Columbia, to make sure that the more radical nullifiers would see the light and acquiesce.

There was little chance that the South Carolinians would persist. As soon as Congress passed the compromise tariff, the main issue had been resolved, and what support the nullifiers had received from other parts of the South disappeared. The nullification convention duly reconvened and, on March 11, rescinded its ordinance. As a largely symbolic parting shot, the delegates approved a new ordinance that nullified the Force Bill. They had lost on almost everything of practical importance, but they would not surrender their honor.

"I have had a laborious task here," Jackson wrote to one of his cousins in the spring, "but nullification is dead; and its actors and exciters will only be remembered by the people to be execrated for their wicked designs." The president, having vindicated his own honor as well as the Union's, overestimated his victory. In the South, even staunch Jacksonians admitted that, although nullification was impermissible, Jackson had overreacted and defended ideas that endangered state rights. "You can rest assured," one antinullification, normally pro-Jackson Mississippian told a friend, "S.C. has our sympathies." Many northern Jacksonians, although far more supportive of the president, still found his words and actions disquieting—at odds with Jeffersonian orthodoxy and unnecessarily antagonistic. Martin Van Buren, for one—concerned as ever about keeping the Jacksonian coalition intact and now anticipating his own eventual run for the presidency—could not get the New York legislature to unite in support of Jackson's nullification proclamation, and he personally opposed the Force Bill. Other anti-nullifiers saw the outcome as ominous in the long run. "Nullification has done its work," the South Carolina Unionist James Petigru wrote. "It has prepared the minds of men for a separation of the states—and when the question is moved again it will be distinctly union or disunion."

Still, Jackson had good reason to feel victorious. With a mixture of angry threats and well-timed moderation, he had isolated the nullifiers and suppressed the immediate threat before him, without firing a single shot. Compared to his predecessor Adams's handling of challenges to federal authority, Jackson had acted with fortitude and cunning. Although he got no credit for the compromise tariff that was eventually enacted, he outmaneuvered the nullifiers, pushing Calhoun into a position from which he There was, to be sure, a great deal more to the nullification crisis than was fully apparent in the public accusations and debates. As Calhoun suggested early on, the struggle arose from the growing alienation of southern slaveholders, whose "peculiar domestick institution" placed them in "opposite relation to the rest of the Union." As James Petigru understood, the Compromise of 1833 did not settle the underlying issues of slavery and Union any more than the Missouri Compromise had. Jackson and his supporters could not see these deeper causes, and instead blamed the crisis on Calhoun's and the nullifiers' personal ambitions, either to dislodge Jackson or to break up the Union and install themselves as potentates. The impulse behind nullification, the Jacksonian Globe asserted, was "a politician's, not a planter's."

If he misunderstood all that was at stake, though, Jackson presented a powerful and, for the moment, triumphant case about the central issue, the legitimacy of nullification. He thereby showed (contrary to the claims of many later

historians) that protection of the democratic Republic, and not the protection of slavery, was his animating political principle. Devotion to the nation, the Constitution, and the will of the majority, Jackson declared, took precedence over allegiances to region, state, and locality. In defending that belief as he did, Jackson offended some of his own supporters, especially in the South, yet still squelched the nullifiers' uprising. He also established a crucial political and constitutional precedent. In later decades, southern slaveholders, expanding beyond Calhoun's arguments, would push the idea of state rights in protection of slavery to the point of disunionism. In 1861, they would force a secession crisis, once again centered on Charleston harbor, far more severe than the confrontation over the tariff in 1832–33. And when that happened, Jackson's successor Abraham Lincoln would rely on Jackson's nullification proclamation and his uncompromising actions for political guidance and strategic lessons.

Less than two days after Congress passed the compromise that ended the nullification crisis, Jackson was sworn in for his second term as president. He could look back with great satisfaction on what he had accomplished thus far, especially during the previous twelve months: gaining personal command of his administration, securing his Indian removal bill, vetoing the charter of the Second Bank of the United States, thwarting nullification, replacing John C. Calhoun with his chosen favorite, Martin Van Buren—and, in his reelection campaign, crushing Henry Clay. Along the way, he had aroused the support of some constituencies and lost that of others, building and refining what would soon emerge as a coherent national party, the Democracy.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson* (New York: Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.94

The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 387–388 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Excerpt

Buren himself opposed the Force Bill. Viewed from a certain angle, this fallout, along with Jackson's fracturing of his southern following, can make it seem as if the nullifiers, and not Jackson, had won the battle. Add in the fact that the nullifiers succeeded in gaining a tariff reduction, albeit a very gradual one, along with the fact that South Carolina Unionism virtually collapsed after 1833, and John C. Calhoun might even look like a triumphant political thinker and strate gist. Such, at least, was Calhoun's own assessment. More detached observers saw the long-term outcome as ominous. "Nullification has done its work," the Unionist James Petigru wrote. "It has prepared the minds of men for a separa tion of the states—and when the question is moved again it will be distinctly union or disunion."6

Yet Jackson also was certain that he had won, and with good reason. "I have had a laborious task here," he wrote, "but nullification is dead; and its actors and exciters will only be remembered by the people to be execrated for their wicked designs." With a combination of coercive threats and well-timed moderation, Jackson had scotched the immediate threat. He had vindicated the Union with much of his popular following, if not his Washington following, still intact. Although he got no credit for the compromise tariff, he had helped maneuver events so that Calhoun and his Carolina allies settled for far less than they had demanded —and less than Jackson himself had seemed to offer in his annual message in December 1832. Of all the major figures in the controversy, only Jackson had backed the Force Bill and some sort of tariff reduction, a stand which affirmed his view that nullification and the tariff were completely separate issues. He got his way on both. More broadly, he had articulated a theory of American constitutional democracy that combined Jeffersonian strict construc tion and respect for state rights with a validation of the American Union. Above all, Jackson had vindicated the idea that had become the keystone of his politics: in the American republic, the majority governs. To uphold that principle, he called on the nation to reject the slaveholder aristocrats, who in their zeal would dismember the Union itself.[68]

The struggle hardly turned the slaveholder Jackson's administration, let alone his intersectional party, into an antislavery force. Jackson did not even see the cri sis in those terms. He always ascribed the nullifiers' motivations to sheer political ambition. Now that they had lost, Jackson predicted, they would seize on "the negro, or slavery question" as their "next pretext." The Globe agreed, charging that the impulse behind nullification was "a politicians, not a planters." Yet the crisis did show that protecting slavery and slaveholders' rights did not lie at the core of Jackson's political philosophy. Democracy, not pro-slavery, was his ani mating principle, in the nullification crisis no less than when he vetoed the rechartering of the BUS. To defend democracy, he would fiercely attack the most vociferous pro-slavery bloc in the nation.[69]

There was, to be sure, a great deal more to the nullification crisis than met the eye. As James Petigru sensed, the compromise of 1833 did not settle the deeper issues at stake any more than had the Missouri Compromises of 1820 and 1821. The battle between Jacksonian democratic nationalists, northern and southern, and nullifier sectionalists would resound through the politics of slavery and anti slavery for decades to come. Jackson's victory, ironically, would help accelerate the emergence of southern pro-slavery as a coherent and articulate political force, which would help solidify northern antislavery opinion, inside as well as outside Jackson's party. Those developments would accelerate the emergence of two fundamentally incompatible democracies, one in the slave South, the other in the free North.

As Calhoun had suggested early on, the struggle involved not simply protec tive tariffs or state rights but the deeper alienation of the slaveholding South, whose “peculiar domestick institution” placed it in “opposite relation to the majority of the Union.” Or, as a young, intransigent radical nullifier named Robert Barnwell Rhett proclaimed at the final gathering of the South Carolina nullification convention, not just the North but also “the whole world are in arms against your institutions:... Let Gentlemen be not deceived. It is not the Tariff—not Internal Improvement—nor yet the Force Bill, which constitutes the great evil against which we are contending.” The Globe’s prediction, after the cri sis had passed, that nullification would give way to an effort to arouse “the fear and jealousy of the South with regard to their slaves,” and push for disunion would come to seem prescient, even if pro-slavery ideals and not merely ambi tion would lie behind that effort."

Author's Notes

68. Jackson to Andrew J. Crawford, May 1, 1833, in CAJ, 5: 72.

69. Ibid.; Globe, Aug. 4, 1832.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln* (W. W. Norton, 2005), 387–388.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *The Rise of American Democracy*, 387–388.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.95

The Passions of Andrew Jackson

Andrew Burstein

SELECTION	THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 2003.

Excerpt

Jackson may be considered a significant president if significance means changing the office. He headed a coalition of discontents, took on the Washington establishment, grabbed power, and crippled patrician politics. In the executive branch, he employed the muscle of scrappy journalists, after which other such men who had begun their careers as humble trades¬ men appealed successfully to an expanding electorate and ended up in the once noble Senate. Jackson's idea was a simple (naive?) one: remake Washington by remaking political man. As his aide James A. Hamilton wrote of Jackson in 1828, "His intercourse has been much greater with men than books. He therefore well knows how to adapt his deportment to the character and condition of the different classes with whom he meets. He possesses an independent spirit, and great confidence in his own powers." Jackson indeed reinterpreted the presidency. At the same time, though, the anarchic condition of his cabinet suggests an inability to administer government other than to move from crisis to crisis—crises he either cre¬ ated or exacerbated. He used them as litmus tests, to demand loyalty. His vanity was corrosive. It is hard to avoid seeing Jackson as insatiable, always interfering in the lives of others.

To his enemies, he appeared as a trickster or cult leader who worked his magic on the lost and vulnerable. In this view, the election of the imagined democratic "Hero" might have given many ordinary people the sense that they partook in his power; but it was a false sense of power, because Jackson was a tyrant and Jacksonian democracy a misnomer. The Whig Party came into existence as an alternative, offering Jackson-style populist rhet¬ oric combined with prudence in governmental affairs. The Whigs said that Jackson had perverted the republic when he seized onto a kind of mock-regal pretense—that which the original American Whigs had col¬ lectively fought in the 1770s.

Typical of the censure Jackson received from opposing politicians, Con¬ gressman John Davis discharged his vitriol in an 1834 letter to his former colleague George Briggs. Davis had recently resigned his seat in the House of Representatives to become governor of Massachusetts, and felt compelled to express his frustration both with Jackson's executive style and with the fawning, submissive men whom the president required around him: "I notice the more arbitrary the measures become the less the laws, the constitution and the principles of civil liberty are regarded, the louder the Kitchen Cabinet sings its hosannahs to their chief." Among the cho¬ rus, Davis was most disgusted with the fanatical Isaac Hill, senator from New Hampshire and longtime editor of the New Hampshire Patriot. Hill had done much to secure Jackson's reputation in New England, and went so far as to declare his man the greatest of all the presidents. "Hill advances him before [i.e., ahead of] the combined character of Washington & Jef¬ ferson and I dare say if he would utter all he wishes he would place him over the great ruler of the universe. As the progress of tyranny advances their courage seems to increase & their hopes to brighten. In truth it seems to me they shout with joy at the prospect of conquering the constitution." It appeared, at least to this one public servant, that Jackson considered himself God.

If this were so, he would have been a wrathful God. For there was con¬ tained in Jackson an extraordinary rage, a taste for revenge, that burst eas¬ ily when he felt possessed of the might he needed to see his will fulfilled. In such situations, the perception that he had dedicated friends and supporters was crucial, and he projected onto these people his greatest expectations: either they would follow his orders and become heroes (sub¬ ordinate only to him), or they would fail to carry out their orders, and let him down in a most profound way. Once Jackson had resolved on an action, his expectations from handpicked subordinates ran perilously high. Generalship defined him. He was unalterable in purpose. He invested his all in the loyalty of his troops and thrashed about when defections occurred, just as he had roared at the mutineers who defied him during the War of 1812.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burstein, Andrew. *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*. New York: Knopf, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Andrew Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson* (Alfred A. Knopf, 2003), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.96

The Political Culture of the American Whigs

Daniel Walker Howe

SELECTION	hapter Four :
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 90–91 · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 1979.

Excerpt

= iL Lf House could have but one consequence in the long run: “pure democracy.”8° Yet opposition to an overmighty executive was not confined to an embittered, displaced elite. It was the most common Whig appeal to the electorate, and it proved effective enough to win a big victory in 1840. The Whig campaign of that year hammered away at the theme of executive encroachments. Harrison promised to set a good example of restraint: to exercise the veto sparingly, to poll his cabinet on decisions, to put a stop to the worst abuses of the spoils system, and not to run for reelection. He even promised to defer to the wishes of Congress on the Bank issue (a safe enough commitment if a Harrison victory elected a Whig Congress on his coattails—as it did).®! One reason historians have disparaged the alleged lack of issues in the 1840 campaign is that they have refused to take opposition to the executive seriously as an issue.

They have seen only the self-interest of the “outs” and have been oblivious to the cultural power of the country-party tradition that “outs” had been exploiting for hundreds of years. If some Whig politicians exploited it opportunistically, they were doing no more than many observers have suspected Bolingbroke of doing in the eighteenth century. In any case, like Bolingbroke, they recognized the strength of the tradition and contributed to it. But Whig opposition to a strong executive extended beyond tactical opposition to Democratic incumbents. During the 1840s Whigs consistently opposed granting strong powers to the executive in the state constitutional conventions of the Old Northwest.®2 We are often told that the Whigs, in favoring a weak executive, were reversing the earlier conservative position in America; such a reversal appears, however, only if one assumes the Whigs to have been a continuation of the Federalists.8? Viewing the Whigs within a country-party tradition puts the matter in a different light. Both Whigs and Democrats claimed to be heirs of the Republican party of Jefferson though both in fact contained some former Federalists.

Ex- Federalists like Daniel Webster became willing to cite Jefferson as an opponent of executive power once they had identified themselves as Whigs.* The closest ideological predecessors of the Whigs seem to have been not the Federalists but the “moderate” or “nationalistic” wing of the Republicans. This group combined, as the Whigs did later, a country-party respect for constitutional balance, legal tradition, and executive restraint with belief in federally sponsored economic development and government “for” rather than “by” the Peers AAS ARMS NY pak representative Of this brand Of Kepublicanism, and the patron saint of Whiggery, was James Madison. It is well known (or it should be) that Jefferson disapproved of Jackson’s candidacy in 1824; it is even more significant that Madison and Gallatin, who were still alive in 1832, when the issues of the Jacksonian era had been clearly drawn, supported Clay for president that year.

On March 3, 1841, William Henry Harrison repeated all of his campaign pledges in an elaborate inaugural address, full of classical allusions, that he had written himself but permitted Webster to edit. He coupled his promises of executive restraint with admonitions to the people. They should remember that they had limited their sovereignty by fundamental law. They should not allow themselves to be misled by ‘designing men,” who would play upon their “passions” and pretend to protect them from aristocracy. Actually, Harrison assured his audience, history proved there was no danger that a constitutional republic would degenerate into an aristocracy; “the tendency of all such governments in their decline is to monarchy.”86 It was a day of bitter cold, and the speech went on much longer than most inaugural addresses. Perhaps the new president wanted to lay to rest any doubts that the “log cabin and hard cider” slogans might have created about his background and to display his classical education. But the proud old man had refused to wear an overcoat for the occasion. He caught the fatal chill that led to pneumonia. William Henry

Harrison's dedication to the classical republican tradition and to the image of the heroic orator cost him his life.

The bitter confrontation that ensued between Harrison's successor, Tyler, and the congressional Whigs, led by Clay, confirmed all the Whigs' resentments of presidential power. Lacking a two-thirds majority in both houses, they could neither override Tyler's vetoes nor amend the Constitution, as they threatened, to permit vetooverriding by a simple majority. Robbed of the fruits of their triumph, some Whigs fell to envying the British Constitution, which allowed the legislative body to vote an executive out of office. Even more than under Jackson, the cabinet resisted the president's will. The dramatic coordinated resignation of all Tyler's cabinet save Webster reflected something of the British example of collective responsibility. Tyler counterattacked through his patronage powers, seeking to build up a following of his own; these officeholders went through the motions of a convention to renominate him in 1844 but failed to attract a significant constituency. Such behavior could only remind the Whigs of the shameful machinations of a "court party." Tyler was also carrying on other, more momentous, machinations,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Howe, Daniel Walker. *The Political Culture of the American Whigs*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Walker Howe, *The Political Culture of the American Whigs* (University of Chicago Press, 1979), 90–91.

Shortened citation:

Howe, *The Political Culture of the American Whigs*, 90–91.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.97

The Presidency of Andrew Jackson

Donald B. Cole

SELECTION	An Ambivalent Presidency
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 274–275 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Excerpt

Yet to say that he transformed the presidency or became the first modem president is stretching the point. He was not tested by the chal lenges in foreign policy that have faced almost all presidents since Grover Cleveland, nor was he asked to construct economic programs as have so many presidents in the twentieth century. His assertion of the power of the executive in his veto of the recharter bill was primarily a defensive stand against the Supreme Court. He did make a strong state ment of executive power in his Protest against the censure resolution, but he soon retracted much of it. Since he rarely had control of Con gress, he was unable to have many bills passed into law—aside from his administrative reforms.

Nor does Jackson's use of the veto power show that he was a strong president. He did veto twelve bills, two more than all the presidents before him, but the vetoes demonstrated more weakness than strength— his inability to prevent Congress from passing bills that he opposed. It was typical of his presidency that when he pocket vetoed Rives's bill to do away with the Specie Circular the day before he left office, he saved it for only one more year. Jackson's use of the veto, furthermore, did not have a great deal of influence on the presidents who immediately fol lowed him. The total of thirty vetoes between Jackson and Lincoln was not particularly large, considering the partisanship and sectionalism of the era. Although Jackson often seemed to be strengthening the presi dency, Tocqueville thought otherwise, noting perceptively that the per sonal "power of General Jackson... increases, but that of the President declines." Tocqueville predicted accurately that the power of the presi dency would "pass enfeebled into the hands of his successor."10

The great achievement of Jackson's presidency was the creation of the Democratic party. During those eight years Jackson's heroic person ality, Blair's rhetoric, and the political skills of Van Buren and Kendall made the first modem American political party and the first real twoparty system possible. The Democratic party and the Whig party that followed were the first mass political parties in the world, coming half a century before similar parties in Europe. Ever so grudgingly, Jack son's opponents recognized his accomplishment. Calhoun, for example, blamed party patronage for the expunging of the censure. Three years after Jackson left office, John Quincy Adams wrote that—aside from mil itary service and demagoguery—"the art of party drilling" was the "most indispensable element of success" in politics.[11]

One of the legacies of the Democratic party was the policy of accom modating to slavery. Jackson and Van Buren implemented that policy between 1835 and 1837 by appointing five southerners to the Supreme Court, and the policy was an important part of Van Buren's strategy in his election campaign. In the next two decades Democrats trained under Jackson would make every effort to hold their party together by compro mising with the South. When the policy began to falter late in the 1850s, old Jackson Democrats were still adhering to it. In the Dred Scott deci sion, for example, a group of aging Democratic justices provided the majority opinion that Congress lacked the power to ban slavery in the territories. Among them were Roger B. Taney, James M. Wayne, and John Catron, all appointed by Jackson, and Peter V. Daniel and Robert C. Grier, appointed by Van Buren and Polk.

While Jackson was president, changes were taking place in the city of Washington that reflected the same struggle between the old re publican ideals and the new materialism that had so affected the admin istration. To perpetuate the republic by glorifying George Washington, two works of art were commissioned. In 1832 Congress chose Horatio Greenough to prepare a statue of the first president, and four years later Robert Mills won a competition to design the Washington Monument. Attention was also given to the Capitol, which had not fully recovered from being

burned by the British in 1814, and the President's House, which was shabby inside and unfinished outside. When Charles Bulfinch completed work on the rotunda and the east and west fronts of the Capitol in 1830, the building assumed the form it would retain until the eve of the Civil War. At the President's House the addition of the north portico with its grand columns and the elaborate decoration of the East Room transformed a run-down dwelling into an American temple, called, increasingly, the "White House." To improve the way between these two republican buildings, the government planted trees along Pennsylvania Avenue and macadamized the surface.

But not all the changes in the dty recaptured the idealism of the Revolution. The many taverns and cheap stores that sprang up along Pennsylvania Avenue constantly reminded visitors of the less attractive.

Author's Notes

11. Thomas Hart Benton, Thirty Years' View, 2 vols. (New York: D. Appleton, 1854), 1:415-25.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cole, Donald B. *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*. American Presidency Series. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Donald B. Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson* (University Press of Kansas, 1993), 274–275.

Shortened citation:

Cole, *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*, 274–275.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.98

Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes

Gerard N. Magliocca

SELECTION	Presidential Reconstruction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 31–32 · Supplied edition: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Excerpt

issuing his vetoes, Madison expanded on his position by explaining that a veto would be inappropriate in the face "of all the obligations derived from a course of precedents amounting to the requisite evidence of the national judgment and intention." Madison's Bank Veto therefore created an informal limit on the veto power—based on consistent practice—that became quite influential prior to Jackson's election."

Institutional arrangements and constitutional substance were now merging, and what followed shows once again how the initial allocation of political resources directs the flow of events during a transitional period. In the 1820s, the Jacksonian movement gave no consideration to how the president should interact with Congress. If the Democrats had started with control of Congress, they probably would have used traditional arguments to advance their ideas. But that was not the situation. The president's plan to alter the law was confronted by the same contention across the board—the status quo was fixed by repeated acknowledgments of its validity by the political branches." Recall that Senator Sprague stressed this point, citing Madison's Bank Veto, in opposing the Removal Act. Jackson could only achieve his aims by challenging the traditional view that legislative precedent was binding on the other branches.

To smash this consensus, the president turned to the veto. Jackson vetoed more bills than all of his predecessors combined, and these were crucial in mobilizing public support.' This tactic worked because it resonated with the deeper structure of the presidency. In a groundbreaking study of the executive branch, Stephen Skowronek writes that presidents are better at tearing things down than at building them up." Vetoes capture this observation well, since they can only be used to end programs. This was no problem for Jackson, since he wanted to destroy the earlier generation's view of federal power. The place to start was the Maysville Turnpike.

Jackson's Opening Bid Boldness mixed with a dash of luck let the president veto the act as an "irregular, improvident, and unequal appropriation... of the public funds."* Both Madison and Monroe vetoed spending on "local" items that the states could not refuse to undertake.*! Thus, the issue was not a black-and-white one about the existence of federal implied power—the question was how broadly that power should be construed." In his argument against the Maysville Turnpike, Jackson relied on his prédecessors' vetoes as a way of appealing to the more cautious _. -. - - Ps Kentucky. Since the bill sought to extend a national network of roads, classifying it asa local project was questionable, but the president's analysis of the customary law was plausible. During such an early stage, the claims advanced by the new movement always appear more modest than they actually are. Unsure of the political support for radical change, the new leadership will try to set its reforms in the context of existing principles. Just as the Removal Act claimed to respect the Tribe's freedom on whether it would leave Georgia, in his first veto Jackson claimed that he was doing nothing more than what past presidents had done.

Although the "holding" of the veto was rather bland, Jackson's "dicta" undermined the idea of deferring to legislative and executive practice. * He spoke wistfully about Jefferson's narrow view of federal power on internal improvements, noting its "deservedly high authority," and said, "The symmetry and purity of the Government would doubtless have heen better preserved it this restriction of the power of appropriation could have heen maintained." He lamented "the difficulty, if not impracticability, of bringing back the operations of the Government to the construction of the Constitution." That example was an "admonitory proof of the force of implication and the

necessity of guarding the Constitution with sleepless vigilance against the authority of precedents which have not the sanction of its most plainly detined powers." It was the duty of all officials, he said, "to look to that sacred instrument instead of the statute book" when interpreting the Constitution..

In this sense, the Maysville Turnpike Veto bridged the divide between the competing generations. Jackson's action was within the parameters of constitu tional tradition and drew on its precedents. Nevertheless, the rest of his statement took the assumptions of that regime to task. Practice was not an irresistible rule of construction but a suspicious source of authority that must be watched with "sleepless vigilance." Moreover, legislative precedent in "the statute book" was unreliable in comparison with the constitutional text, which inverted Madison's notion that abstract opinion could not defeat consistent practice. With these assertions, the president sought to undermine traditional principles and prepare the nation for broad reform..

Notwithstanding the care that Jackson took to rest his veto on widely accepted precedent, the response to his action suggested that the president's opponents were not fooled. The National Intelligencer, a leading antiJackson newspaper, held that the Maysville Veto threw the government back half a century.' Daniel Webster charged that the only road that the administration wanted was a "toad to ruin." And ina similar vein, another congressman said that "on the whole, I consider this document artfully contrived to bring the whole system of internal

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Magliocca, Gerard N. *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Gerard N. Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes* (University Press of Kansas, 2007), 31–32.

Shortened citation:

Magliocca, *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution*, 31–32.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.99

Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America

Harry L. Watson

SELECTION	FOUR MORE YEARS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 99–100 · Supplied edition: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Excerpt

Jackson went even further. “The Presidentis the direct representative of the American people,” he boldly declared, “but the Secretaries are not.”

If the president had no power over the public purse, the people had none either, and that supposition was intolerable in a democracy. Because the president was the only officer directly elected by the whole people, he alone had the power and authority to give order and direction to the national government. Without the overriding power of the president to subject all departments of the executive branch to the mandate of the popular will, the Union and republican government itself would collapse into unbearable confusion. “At length,” he worried, “some form of aristocratic power would be established on the ruins of the Constitution or the States be broken into separate communities.”

Jackson thus rested his case as Clay did, claiming that his version of the case was the only salvation of the nation’s republican traditions. His argument in favor ofa strong presidency, morally and legally justified by an appeal to the democratic will of the whole people, broke new constitutional ground in defining the office of the president. It slowly became accepted as the prevailing view of the president’s powers, but contemporary Whigs remained horrified. If the president were “the direct representative of the American people,” where did that leave Congress and the courts? If a popular majority could reach over the heads of locally elected leaders and dictate national policy through a single elected despot, how could the lives and property of the minority ever be safe? If democracy meant that the president was all powerful when he acted in the name of the people, what would happen to liberty under law?

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Watson, Harry L. *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America*. Boston: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Harry L. Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America* (Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998), 99–100.

Shortened citation:

Watson, *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay*, 99–100.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.100

Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President

James C. Klotter

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 180–181 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Excerpt

A second argument in the veto message used xenophobic and sectional appeals. Pointing to the fact that foreigners held about one-☐fourth of BUS stock, Jackson said that kept Americans from benefiting from the bank's success and gave aliens control over the finances, especially in times of war: "It should be purely American." He also used states' rights and sec tional arguments, stressing that the East, especially New England (where he had less political support), dominated bank counsels and stockholders. That deprived the Midwest and the South from sharing the wealth. Benefiting from centralized power and free from taxation—☐unlike state banks—☐the BUS was "principally a debt to the Eastern and foreign stockholders."[42]

But the political brilliance of the veto came from its open class appeals. The president represented a living person, the bank a faceless corporation. He embodied the people, the BUS typified the moneyed power. He voiced the simple, republican, yeoman ideals of the past; the bank epitomized the special, privileged, corporate present. The symbolism and the clarity of the words made the veto message all the more powerful. A monopoly, "dangerous to the liberties of the people," had the exclusive favor of the government. That should not be. Guided by a few designing men who acted behind closed doors and held con centrated power in their hands, the bank represented a threat to na tional self-☐determination: "The rich and powerful too often bend the acts of government to their selfish purposes" and use artificial, feder ally supported advantages "to make the rich richer and the potent more powerful." Instead of equal protection and equal benefits, the wealthy had used congressional action for their personal gain, thus arraying "section against section, interest against interest, and man against man." Instead, the message stressed, Jackson defended the humble and the oppressed. Such words appealed directly to the people, especially those in less fortunate circumstances, those who believed the corporations were responsible for their ills, those who saw Jackson giving vent to those frustrations through his presidential voice.[43]

Some parts of the veto were misleading at best: foreign stockholders held no voting rights, and the suggestion that the president had not been consulted about the bill and might have agreed to one that met his objections does not seem supported by the evidence. The veto narrative ba sically ignored all the good things the BUS did for the economy and the country's financial system. Jackson did not favor the bank, or probably any national bank, and certainly did not favor one supported and advocated by Clay. In fact, the veto signified a political attempt to redefine the 1832 pres idential race—☐and it did.[44]

For all its omissions, questionable logic, and faulty reasoning, the veto message resounded with some voters because certain charges rang true. The bank did have great power and influence, with few outside controls. It did operate beyond the light of public scrutiny. It did have politicians under its control through loans and retainers. It did have the potential to use its vast resources for or against a political candidate. Clay, Webster, Biddle, and other bank advocates saw clearly the positive effects of the BUS on the economy, but they were almost blind regarding the real concerns about the institution. Webster, for instance, haughtily rejected the president's constitutional arguments: "If that which Congress had enacted and the Supreme Court has sanctioned, be not the law of the land, then the reign of individual opinion has already begun." Clay, in turn, quickly denounced the veto with "deep alarm," especially for its errors regarding foreign con trol, its "unlawful" constitutional doctrines, and its creation of "general disorder and confusion" in financial circles. Both men made excellent ra tional, legal arguments. Both expected the people to rally to their inter pretation. And both for the longest time failed to grasp the power of the emotional appeals inherent in the veto. Vulnerable on the spoils system, the divisions within his party, the growing corruption, the Indian issue, the tariff, and more, Jackson had turned attention elsewhere in the presi dential contest by focusing on the bank. In that

war of words and images, Clay could not win. The veto gave Jackson an issue more recent than the "corrupt bargain" charge, and produced a kind of temporary amnesia about the administration's problems. The Jackson newspapers took up the new attack strategy in earnest.[45]

Author's Notes

41. Watson, Jackson vs. Clay, 181–☐82, 186, 185.

42. Watson, Jackson vs. Clay, 183–☐85.

43. "Representative Men, Part II," Southern Literary Messenger 19 (1853): 588; James David Barker, Politics by Humans: Research in American Leadership (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1988), 7; Watson, Jackson vs. Clay, 181–☐82, 184, 187.

44. Daniel Feller, The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815–☐1840 (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995), 170.

45. Howe, What Hath God Wrought, 375; Sellers, Market Revolution, 322; RD, 22nd. Cong., 1st Sess. (1831–32), 1221–☐40, 1273, 1269; Wilentz, American Democracy, 373. 482

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Klotter, James C. *Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Footnote citation:

James C. Klotter, *Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President* (Oxford University Press, 2018), 180–181.

Shortened citation:

Klotter, *Henry Clay*, 180–181.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.101

Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States

John Lauritz Larson

SELECTION	A NATIONAL REPUBLICAN ALTERNATIVE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 66–67 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Excerpt

plained that without a list of projects members could not know what they were buying. Maybe so, Calhoun agreed, but it was proper, or at least practicable, to set apart money first because a detailed bill could not be passed: "The enemies to any possible system in detail and those who are opposed in principle, would unite and defeat it."6° Two novel points emerged in Calhoun's arguments. First, the young South Carolinian could not imagine constitutional restrictions that endangered the Union itself. Many postwar nationalists in Congress agreed. Second, what was politically expedient was indistinguishable in his mind from what was natural and proper. If the fund must precede the system because rival interests would lay waste detailed designs, then such was the correct approach. Having made his case, Calhoun urged the Fourteenth Congress to seize the initiative and get the credit for establishing the system. "No body of men," he thought, "ever better merited the confidence of the country." They had been slandered by the public over the Compensation Act, and Calhoun wished to restore their reputation by adding internal improvements to "the many useful measures already adopted."

In much the same way Madison had tried to rescue leadership by setting out a positive agenda, Calhoun was trying to bind the people to their federal government before state and local politics completely mastered their allegiances. Responses to Calhoun's arguments occupied the House all week. Friends of the bill identified different sources of congressional authority: the general welfare clause, the commerce clause, or the several defense provisions. Some opponents claimed they would support the bill if it specified a system, but most speakers attacked the question of constitutional power. Thomas Bolling Robertson of Louisiana blasted Calhoun's entire premise, pointing out that equal benefits had been offered by history's greatest tyrants. Expediency did not make the system safe or republican. Give the money to the states, Robertson concluded, and avoid the "disgraceful scene" that surely would follow, "when we shall be called upon to designate the position and course of the contemplated roads and canals, when all our local feelings will be up in arms, and, under a pretense of a general welfare, we shall have in view exclusively the interests of the State or district which we represent."

Having thus pulled down the mask of disinterestedness, Robertson touched upon what for many states' righters was the heart of the matter: this bill promised to create "one grand, magnificent, consolidated empire." To prevent these scheming nationalists from using roads and canals to consolidate their national empire, Robertson moved to distribute funds directly to the states according to population—terms once proposed by Jefferson but rejected by Gallatin as incompetent to guide a national system. Henry Clay descended from the speaker's chair to oppose the change. Proportional spending destroyed the potential for a system because funds could not be concentrated for national objectives. Timothy Pickering of Massachusetts inserted "with the consent of the State" into a substitute motion, which Calhoun denounced as ruining the bill. State consent, like proportional spending, stripped away federal power to design or direct improvements. Both amendments prevailed; yet even so disarmed, the Bonus Bill passed by only two votes over the combined resistance of radical Virginia Republicans and unreconstructed New England Federalists. In these debates, new Republican nationalists clashed with states' rights anticonsolidationists, each side drawing proudly from the political legacy of Jeffersonian and Madisonian Republicanism.

Frustrated in their pursuit of great national objectives by vindictive party spirits and petty local interests, Clay and Calhoun labored (as had Madison himself in 1786 on behalf of a new frame of government) to gain power to do what

they thought was the right thing by whatever means seemed to be available. “Old Republicans” like Randolph and Robertson took their cues from Jefferson’s bitter opposition to Hamilton’s banking system, condemning legislative construction and the schemes of national improvers as if they were latter-day monarchists. Remnant Federalists watched with glee, voting against what they probably supported just to stir up the ranks of their enemies. Thinking they had snatched the hope of the Union from this irresponsible melee in Congress, Clay and Calhoun proudly delivered the Bonus Bill to President Madison three days before his term expired. Perhaps the nationalist agenda was secure after all.. On [2]March 1817, at a farewell reception at the White House, Madison stunned Calhoun with news that he would veto the Bonus Bill.

The next day Clay sent a confidential letter to Madison begging a reprieve: “Knowing that we cannot differ on the question of the object of the Internal Improvement bill, however we may on the Constitutional point, will you excuse me for respectfully suggesting whether you could not leave the bill to your successor?” But Madison could support neither the effect of the bill they presented nor the reasoning by which they had obtained it. In their desperation to get authority into national hands, Clay and Calhoun had accepted a bill with no power to control local spoilsmen except by packaging their greed in pork barrels. Further, they had reinterpreted the Constitution to suit the wishes of majorities outdoors—a revolutionary practice virtually invented by Jefferson and Madison in the early years of the republic, but one the aging framer could not sanction in the hands of the coming generation. Much as he wanted progress toward internal improvements, Madison could not authorize such corruption in both the practice and structure of the American federal government. Madison’s veto surprised the entire Washington community. The president’s nationalism had risen steadily since the 1800 election.

His last several messages had begged for energetic government, while his most recent veto (of an imperfect bank) raised only the most tentative objections, which he invited Congress to

Author's Notes

2. The standard survey is Taylor, Transportation Revolution, see also MacGill et al., Transportation in the United States before 1860; Goodrich, Government Promotion; and Shaw, Canals for a Nation.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Larson, John Lauritz. *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Footnote citation:

John Lauritz Larson, *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States* (University of North Carolina Press, 2001), 66–67.

Shortened citation:

Larson, *Internal Improvement*, 66–67.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.102

The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun

Merrill D. Peterson

SELECTION	TYLER TOO ors
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 315–316 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

Clay and Calhoun again exchanged recriminations over the Compromise Act. While the former insisted that nothing now proposed violated the spirit of the letter of the act, the latter cried betrayal. Had black become white? “Were the people of this country blind? Were they deaf? Were they fools?” Calhoun asked. If Clay prevailed, the South would have traveled full circle back to 1832, with a tariff level of 30 percent or higher, and oppressed as before.** But Clay’s resolutions were approved, after which the House proceeded with a tariff bill. Long before it could be debated, Clay had retired. Seeing that the new tariff could not be ready by July 1, Congress first passed the “little tariff,” extending the current rate of duties of the Compromise Act one month and providing further that this should not suspend distribution. Tyler, invoking the sanctity of the compromise, vetoed the bill. Angry Whigs, led by Botts, started a movement to impeach him. Clay, from Ashland, opposed this but urged firmness on distribution. “I think you cannot give up distribution without a disgraceful sacrifice of independence,” he advised. Don’t imagine the people side with the president. “The more vetoes the better now!—assuming that the measures vetoed are right.”>> In August Tyler vetoed the tariff bill—his fifth veto—solely because it provided for con-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Peterson, Merrill D. *The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Merrill D. Peterson, *The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 315–316.

Shortened citation:

Peterson, *The Great Triumvirate*, 315–316.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.103

The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War

Michael F. Holt

SELECTION	To Rescue the Government and Public Liberty''
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 28–29 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

This last point merits amplification, for the impulse behind the formation of the Whig party has often been misrepresented. Historians have normally portrayed the name "Whig" as a sheer expedient, designed to assemble the widest possible assortment of men who had nothing in common save hatred, fear, resentment, or jealousy of Jackson and his allies. They usually stress the negativism of the Whig party, sneer at its dearth of ideas and ideals, and point to the diversity of its constituent elements as proof of its instability and opportunism. One early student of its formation wrote that "Principles had little part in the origins of the Whig party." Twenty years later, Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., called the cry of executive tyranny a fac¸ade behind which disgruntled conservatives could hide their greed. "The Whigs," wrote Schlesinger, "in scuttling Federalism, replaced it by a social philosophy founded, not on ideas, but on subterfuges and sentimentalities. As Henry Adams observed, 'Of all the parties that have existed in the United States, the famous Whig party was the most feeble in ideas.' "[26]

As already noted, the men who formed the Whig party in the winter of 1833– 34 had often opposed each other over national and state issues during Jackson's first term. Although congressional Whigs in 1834 showed surprising unity in supporting Clay's proposal to distribute federal land revenues to the states and several other measures, original National Republicans and southern state rights men like Mangum remained profoundly at odds over national promotion of economic development. "The principles that you and I hold to be the only conservative principles of our Federative system," Mangum lamented to a North Carolina friend in October 1834, "are scarcely comprehended by the most intelligent of the National Republicans" in "the North & East." Common opposition to Jackson therefore was, at least initially, the strongest bond uniting incipient Whigs. Opposition to, and perceived difference from, the Democratic party would, indeed, remain essential to the vitality of the Whig party throughout its lifetime. It was intimately bound to, and decisively shaped by its relationship with, the Democratic majority.

Nonetheless, strictures about the ideological bankruptcy of the early Whig party are wrong-headed. Opposition to executive tyranny was based on principle, a principle with profoundly powerful ideological ramifications. Only a passionate devotion to the Revolutionary experiment in republican government and a common conviction that Jackson threatened it explain how men with such diverse views on other matters formed a united front against him.

From the Whigs' perspective, everything that Jackson had done demonstrated his intention to amass power in his own hands; to upset the constitutionally mandated balance among the branches of the federal government; to subvert or destroy the independence of other political leaders and voters through patronage, the influence of his pet banks, or intimidation; and thereby to crush popular liberty. Convinced that Jackson was following the same classic scenario as King George III in orchestrating a conspiracy against popular liberty, his opponents adopted the name "Whig" to signal their commitment to the independence of the other branches of government and of the people. As Mangum saw it, he and other Whigs were "The Independents," whereas Jacksonians were "the absolute submissionists, (I mean submission to the bad influences here in Washington.)" Or, as the Raleigh, North Carolina, Register rejoiced in June 1834, "The happy cognomen of Whigs, which all parties opposed to Executive usurpation had adopted," provided "a standard under which... men of all parties, could rally in defense of LIBERTY against POWER."

To defend liberty was to give the Whig party at birth a greater ideological legitimacy with the American voting public than the National Republicans had ever enjoyed. By itself the name helped to erase the stigma of antirepublican elitism that had stunted the growth of its predecessor and to supply the credible appeal to republican values necessary for any party that hoped to compete successfully with the Jacksonian Democrats. Through this party, it promised voters, you can perform your duty to preserve the fruits of the Revolution.

Hence the assertion that the adoption of the name "Whig" "fixed attention upon opposition to Jackson rather than upon principles as the reasons for the party's existence" utterly misses the central ideological foundation of the party. Opposition to Jackson was based on principle. Whigs saw themselves acting from the necessity, as Clay had put it, "to rescue the Government and public liberty, from the impending dangers, which Jacksonism has created." "A Whig in its pure signification," pronounced Richmond, Virginia's, Whig in April 1834, "means one who prefers liberty to tyranny—who supports privilege against prerogative—the rights and immunities of the people, as ascertained by the equity of nature, the Constitution and the laws of the country, against the predominance of the Crown, or Executive power."

Rank-and-file Whigs repeatedly echoed their leaders' fears about the threat that executive tyranny posed to republican self-government. In 1834, for example, a New Yorker wrote to Clay of his "trembling sense of alarm" about "the measures of the present Executive." Jackson displayed "an unbridled lust of power, that attacked the very foundation of our free institutions." A North Carolinian added that "we are at present under a practical despotism & unless the ballot boxes shall vindicate a violated Constitution, it is fearful to think of our Country's doom."

Author's Notes

25. According to Remini, Henry Clay, pp. 456–59, a speech that Clay made to the Senate on April 14, 1834, was primarily responsible for affixing the Whig name to the new opposition coalition.

26. Carroll, Origins of the Whig Party, pp. 171, 124–27; Schlesinger, Age of Jackson, 106– 992 Notes

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Holt, Michael F. *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Michael F. Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War* (Oxford University Press, 1999), 28–29.

Shortened citation:

Holt, *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party*, 28–29.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.104

The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis

Richard E. Ellis

SELECTION	"The Compromise"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 161–162 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

The proposed legislation came under sharp criticism from the nullifiers and others hostile to the President and fearful of any measure authorizing him to use force. The United States Telegraph immediately pounced on the bill, pointing out, "it arms the executive with the entire naval and military force of the country, and thus at once creating him a military dictator." It was further argued that "all the powers delegated in the bill depend on one fatal, monarchical principle, and that is, the President's judgment," and what made this so dangerous is that Jackson "is to possess the dictatorial power of determining what is rebellious opposition to the laws and after having passed judgment in a summary way the same individual executes his process at the head of 50,000 men." In other words, according to this point of view, Jackson's intemperate reaction to nullification had not only gotten out of hand, it had, in itself, become the major problem facing the country. "The Union must be preserved; and yet it cannot and shall not be preserved by causing blood to flow at the will and judgment of a single man."

In the Senate, Calhoun maneuvered to focus the debate on the fears many held about the President's propensity to violence. Shortly after Grundy moved that Jackson's Force Bill message be referred to the Judiciary Committee, the newly seated senator from South Carolina delivered his maiden address to that body. Admitting that "what he was about to say" was, "under parliamentary rule... entirely out of order," he contested the President's claim that the Union had been endangered by the nullifiers' actions. He asserted that for his part "he knew of no other danger but that of military despotism." When the committee reported its bill, Calhoun introduced a set of three resolutions on the nature and power of the federal government. In his supporting speech he indicated that the purpose of the resolutions was to challenge directly the constitutional theory underlying the proposed legislation.
He did not discuss nullification or secession or try to defend them against charges that they were not legitimate expressions of states' rights doctrine; instead he spoke in general terms of the rights of the states and the meaning of state sovereignty, and repeatedly attacked the nationalist interpretation of the origins of the Union contained in Jackson's Proclamation. He concluded by warning: "But two modes of political existence can long endure in our country; the one that [was] formed, by the framers of our admirable Constitution, a federal system, unifying free and independent States in a bond of union for mutual advantages, and to be preserved by the concurrent assent of the parts; or a government by the sword." The resolutions themselves affirmed the compact theory of the origins of the Union and the view that the federal government was one of limited delegated powers and was not the judge of what powers had been delegated to it.
They also explicitly denied nationalist claims that the Union had been created by the people and not the states or that the states were not the final judge of what powers had been reserved for themselves when they created the federal government.

On the day Jackson sent his Force bill message to Congress, Calhoun confidently wrote, "I have no doubt the message will do more for us, than the Proclamation. It has roused the Southern members more than any event, which has yet occurred. The excitement extends even to administration men of that quarter. I do not doubt that our cause gains daily... if we but act prudently." The accuracy of this statement became clear on January 28, when Senator Mangum of North Carolina moved to postpone debate on the Force bill. The motion was supported by the nullifiers and others sympathetic to South Carolina's plight and was opposed by administration spokesmen and their allies. It was viewed as a test of strength between the two groups. Although the Senate voted 30 to 15 to begin debate immediately, the

outcome was actually a victory for the nullifiers. Thirteen of the fifteen votes came from southern senators (the other votes were from George Bibb of Kentucky, a Calhoun partisan, and Samuel Smith of Maryland). Grundy, Forsyth, and Josiah Johnston, a high tariff National-Republican from Louisiana, were the only southern senators to vote with the administration.

The meaning of the vote was clear: despite a lack of enthusiasm for nullification as a theoretical doctrine and a fairly pervasive belief that South Carolina had acted precipitously, there was widespread opposition among southerners to the use of force against the nullifiers. In fact, to do so might well mean civil war on a national scale. On the day the Senate Judiciary Committee reported the Force Bill, it had been noted that if the bill "does pass... all must see that another bill must also be passed, and that to raise an army of at least fifty thousand men. Our army is now almost nothing; the southern militia cannot be employed; and if the northern militia is carried round in transports, (for they cannot go through the state of Virginia) a bloody civil war will commence, which must last for years before it reaches South Carolina, the state intended to be coerced." Or, as another writer argued, the Senate vote on the postponement of debate on the Force bill "is equivalent to a declaration of the entire South against the use of force, and will have a moral effect on the entire North. It indicates most clearly, that if the North unite in favor of force, the South... will unite against force."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ellis, Richard E. *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

Richard E. Ellis, *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis* (Oxford University Press, 1987), 161–162.

Shortened citation:

Ellis, *The Union at Risk*, 161–162.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.105

Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The War Begins
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 81–82 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Excerpt

ine War Degins politician to miss the danger to his reelection and the election of other Democrats by vetoing the bill. Still, he believed with almost religious fervor that he was acting for the public good in striking down this extragovernmental "power in the State." He felt the people would understand this and sustain him in the coming battle. And it was essential that they sustain him, he felt, if he was to represent them before the Congress. "Providence has had a hand in bringing forward the subject at this time," he told Kendall, "to preserve the republic from its thraldome and corrupting influence." ** Thus, certain of popular approval and convinced of the Bank's evil influence, Jackson wrote the veto, doing it in such manner as to "leave the Subject open for the decision of the people at their next Election." °° The actual writing of the message was the work of several men: Jackson himself, Taney, Amos Kendall, Andrew J.
Donelson, and Levi Woodbury.*® What resulted was not a typical veto that simply directed itself to the constitutional issue, but a message that for the first time invoked political, social and economic, as well as strictly legal, arguments. Previous presidents had used the veto a total of nine times, but only on three occasions had important legislation been involved. Jackson vetoed twelve times, more than all his predecessors combined, and he negated bills for reasons that had nothing to do with their constitutionality. What he did in effect was to make the veto power an important presidential instrument in controlling legislation. Hereafter the threat of a possible veto for any reason forced the Congress to consider carefully the President's wishes on all bills before legislating them. This essentially changed the relationship between the legislative and executive branches, and immeasurably strengthened the latter.
It was one of Jackson's important contributions to the development of presidential power; indeed, said one historian, Jackson successfully claimed that the weight of the chief executive was the equivalent of two-thirds of both houses of Congress.' The Bank veto of July 10 is the most important presidential veto in American history. It was a powerful and dramatic polemic, cleverly written to appeal to the great masses of people and to convince them of the truth of its arguments. The President claimed that the Bank enjoyed exclusive privileges that gave it a monopoly of foreign and domestic exchange. Worse, eight millions of its stock were held by foreigners. "By this act the American Republic proposes virtually to make them a present of some millions of dollars," said Jackson— and why should the few, particularly the foreign few, enjoy the special favor of the country? "If our Government," he continued, "must sell monopolies... it is but justice and good policy... to confine our favors to our own fellow citizens, and let each in his turn enjoy an opportunity to profit by our bounty."
Over and over, like the intense nationalist he was, Jackson reiterated his concern over this foreign influence within the Bank.*?

Then the President turned to the constitutional question involved in the recharter. He noted that the Supreme Court in McCulloch v. Maryland had judged the Bank constitutional. "To this conclusion I cannot assent," he declared. Elaborating, he announced that the Congress and the President as well as the Court "'must each for itself be guided by its own opinion of the Constitution. It is as much the duty of the House of Representatives, of the Senate, and of the President to decide upon the constitutionality of any bill or resolution which may be presented to them for passage or approval as it is of the supreme judges when it may be brought before them for judicial decision. The opinion of the judges has no more authority over Congress than the opinion of Congress has over the judges, and on

that point the President is independent of both. The authority of the Supreme Court must not, therefore, be permitted to control the Congress or the Executive when acting in their legislative capacities, but to have only such influence as the force of their

Author's Notes

38. Jackson to Kendall, July 23, 1832, Jackson-Kendall Papers, LC.

40. Traditionally, Roger B. Taney has been credited with being the principal author of the veto. Lynn L. Marshall, "The Authorship of Jackson's Bank Veto Message, Mississippi Valley Historical Review (1963) L, 466-477 argues persuasively that the honor really belongs to Amos Kendall. Jackson reiterated his concern over this foreign influence within the Bank. 42 Then the President turned to the constitutional question in- Constitution. It is as much the duty of the House of Representatives, of the Senate, and of the President to decide upon the the President is independent of both. The authority of the Supreme Court must not, therefore, be permitted to control the Congress or the Executive when acting in their legislative capacities, but to have only such influence as the force of their

41. Leonard D. White, The Jacksonians (New York, 1954), 29,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power* (W. W. Norton, 1967), 81–82.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War*, 81–82.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.106

Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time

Robert V. Remini

SELECTION	The Whig Party 41
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 417–418 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1997.

Excerpt

He followed this by repeating one of his most familiar themes: the division of pohtical power and the need for constitutional restraints. Nothing is more deceptive, he said, or more dangerous than the claim that government must be governments of law, must impose numerous limitations and quaUfications of of power, jealous of encroachments, jealous of man. It demands checks; it seeks "It is strange that the writer of the Protest," whoever he was, did not understand that no one contends that all legislative power belongs to Congress, or all judicial power to the courts of the United States or all executive power to the President. It would be "unsafe" to do so. The writer of the Protest claims the appointing power rests absolutely in the hands of the President. "This I do not agree to."^ because everyone else in Washington knew. Jackson had a Kitchen Cabinet, men like Van Buren, Taney, Kendall, and Blair, among others, and he frequently asked them for assistance in writing his messages. For the Protest message

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Remini, Robert V. *Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Robert V. Remini, *Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time* (W. W. Norton, 1997), 417–418.

Shortened citation:

Remini, *Daniel Webster*, 417–418.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.107

Andrew Jackson

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

Jackson's reply also elaborated his larger ideas about a democratic presidency. On the question of William John Duane's dismissal, Jackson charged that the Constitution only gave the Senate the power to advise and consent over nominations to executive posts. Once approved, cabinet officers served solely at the pleasure of the president. The president, moreover, had a special position in the federal government, along with the vice president, as "the direct representative of the people." Clay's censure resolution tried to undermine that constitutional distinction by granting Congress, "a body not directly amenable to the people," a power over the executive branch neither stated nor envisaged by the Framers. Clay and others had accused Jackson of usurpation; on the contrary, Jackson retorted, it was his opponents who wished to usurp the president's authority by inventing new congressional privileges in order to oversee and bully the executive. If Clay's censure stood, the federal government would move closer to resembling a parliamentary system, directly contradicting the intentions of Madison and the other Framers.

None of this impressed the Clay-Calhoun coalition. The Senate approved the censure a second time by a larger margin than before, and did not even allow Jackson's protest to be included in the Senate journal. Outside Washington, however, the tide was turning against Nicholas Biddle and the Bank, the actual sources of all the trouble. Infuriated by the Bank's continued contraction of credit, business leaders from New York and Boston demanded over the spring and summer of 1834 that Biddle relent lest they repudiate him publicly and bring fully to light how his policies were harming the nation. Finally, in mid-September, Biddle gave way, resuming the Bank's lending, halting the so-called Biddle Panic, and ending his effort to force Jackson's hand.

The downturn's economic effects turned out to be less severe than expected, thanks in part to the state banks' emissions of paper currency, which sustained the nation's overall money supply. But the Biddle Panic, and the Bank War generally, brought dramatic and lasting political changes. Prior to 1833, Jackson's policies had caused various elements of his original political coalition to defect. Yet these offended constituencies had little basis on which to unite with each other or with the National Republicans. Calhoun and the southern nullifiers were basically at odds with constitutional nationalists like Clay and Daniel Webster, as well as with ex-Jacksonians whose main complaint was the Bank veto. The protective tariff and Clay's American System were anathema to erstwhile pro-Jackson slaveholders. The surprisingly popular northern Anti-Masons, although ill disposed to Jackson, remained alienated from Henry Clay, a Mason.

The continuation of the Bank War provided these groups, as well as Conservative Democrats opposed to the deposit removals, with a rallying point—not in support of the Bank (which, as even Clay began to realize late in 1834, was beyond salvation) but against Jackson as an executive tyrant. To National Republicans and Conservative Democrats, Jackson was a would-be Caesar, whose power rested on the support he and his minions had whipped up from the frenzied mob. To Christian humanitarians, Jackson was a despot who tolerated human slavery and force-marched the Indians to the West. Nullifiers and their southern sympathizers considered Jackson a traitor to state rights. Anti-Masons saw him as an arrogant insider who had built a corrupt partisan organization and then had set himself above the law—and who, like Clay, was a Mason, but with incalculably greater power,

These shared antipathies also derived from the Jacksonians' own growing confidence and capacities as a political party, now known simply as the Democracy. After winning the White House with their polyglot coalition of 1828, Jackson and his lieutenants had refined their party's policies and reinforced their organization. From the top of political society to the town, village, and ward levels, Jackson supporters had constructed a coherent new national

political structure, focused on electing other Jackson supporters to office. State and local party conclaves would select candidates and enlist loyalists to get out the vote. Party newspapers, from the Globe in the nation's capital down to sheets turned out in rural printing offices, spread the Democracy's message, kept politics roiling between elections, and advertised the activities of the local Hickory Clubs and other pro-Jackson associations. In the Bank War and the nullification crisis, the Jacksonians also hammered out a political ideology and identity far sharper than the amorphous "reform" program of 1828—an ideology that combined three interwoven strands: robust nationalism on constitutional issues tempered by a restraint on federal support for economic development and a strict construction; a distrust of what Jackson called the corrupting power of "associated wealth"; and a celebration of what one pro-Jackson newspaper called "[t]he democratic theory… that the people's voice is the supreme law."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson* (New York: Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.108

The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America

Alexander Saxton

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 19–20 · Supplied edition: Verso, 1990.

Excerpt

Urban Perspective, Lexington, Mass. 1977, pp. 147-49; Robert Cherry, 'Economic Theories of Racism', in Gordon, ed., Problems..., p. 173; Victor Perlo, Economics of Racism, USA: Roots of Black Inequality, New York 1975, pp. 146, 149, 163-64.

Blacks and Changing American Institutions, Chicago 1978, pp. 144-54, arguing for the rising significance of class in the disadvantaged situation of non-white minorities, recognizes that racism has played a major role in determining the over-representation of non-whites in the new industrial 'underclass'.

Psychoanalysis and History, New York 1958; Michael P. Rogin, Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian, New York 1975.

GramscYs Marxism, London 1976. For an account of the changing meanings of the term ideology, see Martin Seliger, Ideology and Politics, London 1976. My own usage of the term will be clear enough, I think, from my comments on 'post-Gramscian ideology'. For a more formal definition, with which I generally agree, see Seliger, p. 119. Mannheim, Ideology and

Utopia [1929], New York 1936, stands between early Marxian and post-Gramscian notions of ideology, since Mannheim allows at least the possibility of self-evident perceptions of social reality by occasional Utopians or chiliasts.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saxton, Alexander. *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America*. London: Verso, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Alexander Saxton, *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America* (Verso, 1990), 19–20.

Shortened citation:

Saxton, *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic*, 19–20.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.109

The Passions of Andrew Jackson

Andrew Burstein

SELECTION	THE PASSIONS OF ANDREW JACKSON
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 2003.

Excerpt

In every letter to an Indian, in every treaty negotiation, he was obliged to employ the standard address of "Brother." Others who had never lived within a day's ride of Indians might feel a distant empathy and conjure nostalgia for the romantically "vanishing" Indian. Not so Jackson. He had struggled often with what he imagined were intractable Indians, while being himself dismissed as one who did not belong in polite society. "Great pains have been taken to represent me as a savage disposition," he wrote John Coffee in 1824, "who allways carried a scalping knife in one hand, and a tomahawk in the other, allways ready to knock down, and scalp any and every person who differed with me in opinion." He was seen on his "good behavior," wrote a proper Bostonian in 1833, after Harvard honored the president with a doctor of laws degree; "the charm of his personal pres¬ ence" surprised those who had been taught to expect a man without man¬ ners. Margaret Bayard Smith ofWashington, D.C., a Crawford supporter in 1824, mourned the death of Rachel Jackson only insofar as Mrs. Jackson possessed the ability to "control the violence of his temper, sooth the exac¬ erbations of feelings always keenly sensitive and excessively irritable, who heal'd by her kindness wounds inflicted by his violence." But on meeting him not long after, Smith wrote, "I shall like him if ever I know him, I am sure,—so simple, frank, friendly. He looks bowed down with grief as well as age and that idea excited my sympathy." Images of the savage president abound, though they cannot possibly capture the whole Jackson. Hard¬ ened partisan editors and frustrated eastern politicians were the ones responsible for constructing such prejudicial images. They confined Jackson to a cultural prison from which he could hardly have escaped, even if he wanted.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burstein, Andrew. *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*. New York: Knopf, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Andrew Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson* (Alfred A. Knopf, 2003), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Burstein, *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.110

The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians

Anthony F. C. Wallace

SELECTION	THE REMOVAL ACT
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 55–56 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

Andrew Jackson. Jackson referred to Lincoyer as his son and compared the boy's life to his own—both were orphaned at an early age. He apprenticed him to a harness maker, as he himself had been. Unhappily, Lincoyer died of tuberculosis at the age of sixteen. Later, during the war, Jackson set free the Creek military leader Weatherford, who had surrendered voluntarily. And Jackson was not above employing Native American warriors from various tribes in all his military campaigns.

As he came to deal with Indians in the postwar land-cession treaties, Jackson developed a new rhetoric. The Native Ameri¬ cans were now a conquered and dependent people. The object of government must be to save them from imminent extinction by removing them to the West, far from the white settlements, and of course in the process acquiring their lands (some of which, as we have seen, would become his personal property). If possible, their leaders—who he asserted were naturally cor¬ rupt and avaricious—should be persuaded by bribes, whether of cash, lifetime annuities, or private reservations (tactfully described as individual allotments) that enabled them to remain behind while the rest of their tribes emigrated. When honest chiefs like John Ross of the Cherokees refused to be bribed, Jackson proposed that the traditional practice of treaty making be discontinued and that Congress should simply legislate the seizure of land not actually occupied by villages.

A law disallow¬ ing further treaties with Indian tribes and mandating congres¬ sional legislation instead was not adopted for another fifty years; but the practice of allotment was extended to Indians in the treaties of the 1830s, on the theory that the holdouts, being improvident by nature, would soon be forced to sell their land and follow their emigrating fellow tribesmen to the West. Referring to the 1817 treaty, which allowed the residents of the ceded lands the option of emigrating either to their fellow tribesmen's lands in Georgia or to their relations west of the Mississippi, or of taking small individual allotments, he observed that "the principle established by the treaty... will give us the whole country in less than two years." Only a minute fraction would remain behind permanendy, those few who were "pre¬ pared for agricultural pursuits, civil life, and a government of laws" (i.e., the laws of the state of Georgia). Jackson never proposed exterminating the Indians or, at least in public rhet¬ oric, removing by force of arms those who wished to remain.

But he was adept at devising conditions that would make those who chose not to remove so miserable that they would emigrate eventually anyway. Like many others, he seems to have regarded as inevitable the ultimate extinction of the Native Americans as a culturally distinct entity. Their doom was not to be regretted, however: the present race of Indians had destroyed the once great civilization of the "mound builders," he argued (along with others of the time, including Joseph Smith and the Mor¬ mons), and now their own decline was only one more episode in the history of the human race.

But whatever were Jackson's private reasons for promoting Indian removal—some combination of political ambition, finan¬ cial greed, and philosophical rationalization—there remained the political forces that he had mobilized under the banner of the Democratic Party. The exaltation of the common man (meaning, on the frontier, the settler and speculator hungry for Indian land), the sense of America as the redeemer nation destined for continental expansion, the open acceptance of racism as a justification not only for the enslavement of blacks but also for the expulsion of Native Americans—these were popular, politically powerful themes that would have driven any Democratic President to press for a policy of Indian removal.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Anthony F. C. Wallace, *The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians* (Hill and Wang, 1993), 55–56.

Shortened citation:

Wallace, *The Long, Bitter Trail*, 55–56.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.111

Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South

Barbara Krauthamer

SELECTION	self-governance in racialized and often racist language
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Excerpt

Book Overview and Chapter Outline

This book is principally a work in the field of African American history. Its primary aims are to present a detailed history of black people's lives in the Choctaw and Chickasaw Nations and to consider how this material can inform our understandings of the history of black people's enslavement, emancipation, and citizenship. Readers interested in other aspects of this history, such as more-detailed studies of the Choctaw and Chickasaw peoples or works that focus more on the history of U.S. Indian policy, are advised to consult the footnotes for suggested works. There is so much we do not know about black people's lives in the Indian nations, and this work is offered as an effort to present and discuss the extant source material and relevant historiography. As part of ongoing scholarly conversations about race, gender, slavery, and freedom in the Americas, I hope it adds new dimensions and new questions to our understandings of slavery and the transition to freedom in the Indian nations and the United States.
Beginning with the early history of slavery and the lives of the enslaved, in Choctaw and Chickasaw communities and enslaved people's lives in the Indians' Mississippi towns. Earlier generations of scholars interested in this topic mainly attempted to chart a clear and causal relationship between Native practices of captivity and subordination and chattel slavery. I take a different approach by highlighting the rupture and differences between captivity and chattel slavery, especially the centrality of a racial ideology that posited black inferiority and established slavery as a lifelong and heritable condition. Paying close attention to the bedrock ideologies of race and gender allows us to recognize the force and violence embedded in chattel slavery. Even though the first two chapters focus on slavery and the lives of enslaved people, the discussions of race, property, power, and violence also consider the ways Native people were construed as inferior or uncivilized by both landhungry white southerners and federal policy makers. Thus a brief history of Indian removal is included in the first chapter to highlight Native people's importance to southern history and to illustrate the points of intersection between the histories of slavery and Native dispossession. As Indians were forcibly relocated west of the Mississippi, slavery moved westward with them.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Krauthamer, Barbara. *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Barbara Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2013), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.112

African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens

Celia E. Naylor

SELECTION	On the Run
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 30–31 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2008.

Excerpt

The creation of "one body politic" in August 1839 failed to resolve all tensions within the Cherokee Nation. Much of the ongoing bedlam was attributed to the incessant antagonism between various sociopolitical sects, specifically between the Ross Party and the Ridge-Boudinot or Treaty Party. The discord centered on different stances concerning the federal government's removal plan. Major proponents of removal—Major Ridge, John Ridge, Elias Boudinot, and Stand Watie—stressed the ways that removal would place the Cherokee Nation in a better strategic position for future agreements with the federal government. Though representing a minority view in the Cherokee Nation, approximately 200 advocates of Cherokee removal met with U.S. representatives on 29 December 1835 in New Echota and signed a treaty agreeing to Cherokee removal within a two-year period. Supporters of the Treaty of New Echota became known as the Treaty Party. Under the leadership of John Ross, principal chief of the Cherokee Nation, 15,000 Cherokee citizens signed and submitted a petition to the U.S. government protesting the deceptive and unlawful nature of the actions of the Treaty Party. The efforts of the Ross Party, however, fell on deaf ears; in May 1836, the U.S. Congress ratified the Treaty of New Echota. After removal to Indian Territory, due to heightened tensions and animosity, these two factions established their own law enforcement

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Naylor, Celia E. *African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2008.

Footnote citation:

Celia E. Naylor, *African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens* (University of North Carolina Press, 2008), 30–31.

Shortened citation:

Naylor, *African Cherokees in Indian Territory*, 30–31.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.113

Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory

Claudio Saunt

SELECTION	INTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Excerpt

in the same vein, wishing that the "Indians" would be massacred and promising to "drive" them from the country.' The same week of the Fourth, state militia waded through mud and water and descended on a camp of dispossessed indigenous Americans in southwest Georgia, killing twenty to thirty of the refugees. The fleeing survivors left trails of blood in their wake. U.S. troops force-marched 1,600 native men, women, and children toward steamboats docked at Montgomery, Alabama. The men walked in iron chains. In southern Alabama, soldiers pursued a group of native people into a swamp, where they shot and killed four of them. In Tennessee and North Carolina that summer, U.S. citizens drove indigenous families off their farms with cowhide whips and hickory clubs. The dispossessed took refuge in the dense forests of the Appalachians, where they fought off starvation. In Florida, some four thousand U.S. troops spent the Republic's sixtieth birthday waging war against the region's longtime residents. They had recently shipped 450 native people westward across the Gulf of Mexico and up the Mississippi River.

Only three hundred of the destitute deportees survived to reach their destination, a place called Indian Territory.'

The summer of 1836 belongs to the decade of "Indian Removal," as the policy was and is still known. Indian Removal is the subject of this book, though I do not use either word except in historical context. "Indian" is for good reason a designation of pride for many native people in the United States today, but when used to describe the diverse individuals and communities who were expelled from their homelands in the nineteenth century, its fanciful and specious associations distort our understanding of the past. Indians were savage and primitive or noble and in touch with nature. They were stoic, brave, cowardly, untrustworthy, honorable, and doomed. The men were not husbands and fathers but "warriors," the women "squaws," "maidens," or "burden bearers." Political leaders were "chiefs," and communities or nations were "tribes." Indians were, in short, different from other people. The label conjures up so many stereotypes that it clouds the mind, making it impossible to see the past clearly.

In the context of American history, it evokes tragedy and inevitability, creating a dense fog that obscures the choices that U.S. politicians and their constituents made in the early years of the Republic. "Removal" is equally unfitting for a story about the state-sponsored expulsion of eighty thousand people. It is "a soft word," said the Massachusetts representative Edward Everett in a debate on the floor of the House in 1830, "and words are delusive." Then and now, it conveys no sense of coercion or violence. The phrase "Indian Removal," coined by proponents of the policy, has all of the problems of its two constituent terms and possesses an additional fault, In the nineteenth century, people removed themselves to new locales or were removed for committing crimes. "Indian Removal," however, was an unusual construction that left unstated who was removing whom. Were Indians doing it to themselves? The phrase is artfully vague. There are other ways of describing what the United States did to indigenous people in the 1830s.

Human rights activists, writing about events in the twenty-first century, speak of "forced migration," but I am not alone in finding the phrase too distant from events on the ground. "Ethnic cleansing," a term of propaganda that became widely used during the Bosnian War in the 1990s, is rightly criticized for being nebulous and even for obscuring violence. "Genocide" elevates a single question above all others: Does the event fit the definition of the crime, as defined by the 1948 United Nations Convention on Genocide? European colonists and their descendants undeniably acted with genocidal intent at certain times and places, but how often and how extensively is a matter of

debate.* My focus lies elsewhere. I use three other words to describe U.S. policy in the 1830s. One is "deportation." Deportation is conducted by states, and the term therefore captures the administrative and bureaucratic process that underpinned the federal government's expulsion of native peoples. Since a nation can only deport people who are on its soil—beyond its borders, it must resort to diplomacy or force of arms—"deportation" also points to the U.S.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Saunt, Claudio. *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Claudio Saunt, *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory* (W. W. Norton, 2020), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Saunt, *Unworthy Republic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.114

American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House

Jon Meacham

SELECTION	Not One Would Have Ever Got Out Alive
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 317–318 · Supplied edition: Random House, 2008.

Excerpt

On Friday, December 18, 1835—a week before Christmas—Osceola at-

180 Seminoles routed an advance guard of Major Francis Dade's force near roughly a hundred—were all dead. The conflict that ensued, the Second Seminole War, would last seven and while Jackson grew impatient and angry with the American commanders who lost battle after battle to the Seminoles, he never doubted that total victory was the only acceptable answer, no matter how costly. "I have been confined to my room all this day taking medicine," Jackson wrote during the conflict. "I have been brooding over the unfortunate mismanagement of all remedy can be afforded the better." Without security—from Indians, from

Mexico, from Spain, from Britain, from whomever—Jackson believed that everything else about the American republic was at risk. He was anguished the president denounced the people of Florida. "Let the damned cowards dedians had come into a white settlement in Tennessee or Kentucky Jackson's territory—"not one would have ever got out alive." Yet the war went on.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Meacham, Jon. *American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House*. New York: Random House, 2008.

Footnote citation:

Jon Meacham, *American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House* (Random House, 2008), 317–318.

Shortened citation:

Meacham, *American Lion*, 317–318.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.115

Andrew Jackson, Southerner

Mark R. Cheathem

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

Latner, whose study of Jackson's presidency explicitly linked Old Hickory to the West, acknowledged that "one would be hard-pressed... to fit slaveholding, tough-minded politicians like Jackson... into Turner's conception of western democratic idealism," yet he failed to elucidate from where Old Hickory's views on slavery originated and how they influenced his political decisions.? }; More recent scholarship has also failed to explain how Jackson assumed the characteristics of the southern gentry. Lorman Ratner's compendium of short biographical sketches of Jackson and his closest allies offered a promising argument that the Tennessean emulated a Scottish thane, or clan leader, as he entered the gentry, but his analysis was brief and superficial. Along similar lines Andrew Burstein's study of Jackson's passions also centered on his relationship with the men with whom he surrounded himself, but his analysis was informed by literary theory and did not concern itself with southern cultural practices such as kinship and slaveholding. Likewise, Jon Meacham's Pulitzer Prize-winning biography of Jackson as president failed to place Old Hickory's outsized character in a social context that made him understandable.

The two most recent surveys of the Jacksonian period fell into the same pattern of skimming over Jackson's transformation into a southern planter. Sean Wilentz's mammoth survey of American democracy in the early republic paid scant attention to Jackson's slaveholding and land speculation, both of which marked his entry into the planter class. While recognizing the importance of slavery to Jacksonian Democrats, Daniel Walker Howe's equally behemoth examination of the Jacksonian period treated Jackson's southern identity with similar brevity.' There have been notable exceptions to the above trend. Robert Remini's three-volume biography discussed extensively Jackson's various business dealings, including land speculation and slaveholding, but that information was secondary to the frontier's influence on Old Hickory. William J. Cooper Jr. clearly elucidated Jackson's importance to southern politics, while Bertram WyattBrown brilliantly explained his embodiment of southern honor.

More recently, Bettina Drew's unpublished dissertation examined "Master Andrew Jackson" and the influence of his southern identity on his removal of the southeastern Indians, Matthew Warshauer offered an overview of Jackson as a chivalric slave owner, and Hendrik Booraem's study of Jackson's early life made a convincing case that he had been exposed to, and influenced by, the southern gentry in the Carolinas.* Although most scholars describe Old Hickory as a westerner, as representative of the trans-Appalachian frontier, Jackson was truly a southerner. He was born and raised in the Waxhaws region of the most southern of states, South Carolina, where he learned that the path to success included building an influential social network, choosing a career in law, and acquiring land and slave property. In Tennessee, Jackson worked toward becoming a southern planter and gentleman, although his enemies would have disputed the latter. His desire to live as part of the gentry was ever present, even as he defeated the British at New Orleans in 1815, ascended to the presidency in 1828, and built the Democratic party in the 1830s and 1840s.

Jackson's propensity toward violence, defense of honor, enslavement of African Americans, embrace of kinship, and pursuit of Manifest Destiny created a southern identity to which many contemporary white southerners, elite and nonelite, could relate. One of the greatest ironies of Jackson's life was that his identification with the South laid the foundation for the Civil War. Even though the idea of Indian removal preceded him, his actions as general and president accelerated the process, opening up southeastern lands to white settlers intent on making money from cotton. Jackson opposed disunion in 1832 and 1833, yet his longtime pursuit and support of Manifest Destiny helped drive a wedge between northerners and southerners and exacerbated the slavery debate. He supported the annexation of Texas, which, when accomplished, set off a chain of events that made slavery the crucial issue in the congressional debates over westward expansion and led to the nation's division. Although Jackson died without

witnessing the bloody conflict that began in 1861, his influence as the "patriot slaveholder" was obvious during the secession crisis of 1860-1861.

Both northerners and southerners appealed to his example to make the case for and against secession. Abraham Lincoln's first inaugural address drew on Jackson's 1832 Nullification Proclamation, which denied South Carolina's right to nullify federal law and dismember the Union, to argue that "the central idea of secession is the essence of anarchy." In the end Old Hickory not only helped create the South that precipitated the nation's greatest crisis, but he also provided the model for Lincoln's opposition to the Confederacy's formation.°

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cheathem, Mark R. *Andrew Jackson, Southerner*. Southern Biography Series. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Mark R. Cheathem, *Andrew Jackson, Southerner* (Louisiana State University Press, 2013), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Cheathem, *Andrew Jackson, Southerner*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.116

Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian

Michael Paul Rogin

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Excerpt

Indian relations, to be sure, will not take one everywhere in Jacksonian America or beyond. But Fathers and Children, written to redress the silence of previous studies, shows how Indian dispossession initiated and configured Jacksonian Democracy. Jackson's expropriation of Indian land, as general and President, contributed heavily to the speculative and entrepreneurial activities of his age. These activities, which Jacksonian politicians themselves promoted, generated the monsters that Jacksonian politics sought to slay. Jacksonian Democracy defined itself against enemies Jackson's primitive accumulation helped bring into being. In so doing it drew upon themes first present, for Jackson, in Indian removal. Jacksonian nationalism derived from westward expansion against Indians. His Indian policy made Jackson the southern candidate for President, originating Jacksonian Democracy in what William Freehling has called the "southern majority strategy." Under Jackson's lead, the South protected its peculiar institution by stressing what it shared with the rest of the country—westward expansion, racial paternalism, and the acquisition of private property on the land— rather than the distinctiveness of slavery. Jackson's attack on despotic, oldfamily social connections, moreover, had its political origins in his attack on tribal hierarchy.

Before defending the common white man against self-interested elites, Jackson had defended "the poor Indians" against their tribal chiefs. To replace traditional ties to clan and land, Jackson offered market freedom to individual Indians and new forms of government social control to tribes. The asylums that rose to take over functions the family now failed to perform; the new parties that rejected "the factitious aid of family name" in favor of organizational loyalty,*3 and Jackson's own rhetoric of rotation in office all fit the new pattern. Finally Jackson's self-proclaimed paternal discipline of the troops under his command set the terms for his political relationship to the Jacksonian common man. As the first, modern plebiscitory President, Jackson spoke for the people because, in his words, "the bone and sinew of the country" lacked the means to represent themselves. Jackson did not "consciously set out" to enforce the new pattern, as one reviewer thought I argued; unconscious grievance powered his attack on traditional family ties. Jackson's Indian policy was hardly responsible on its own for the new asylums, party organizations, and forms of heroic popular leadership.

Rather it was early precedent for, and linked Jackson with, the organizational tendencies of his age. Traditional patterns of local deference, old elite dominance, and undeveloped organization persisted. But Jacksonian Indian policy shaped the symbiosis between an organizational and commodity economy social structure and a national culture of heroic, violent, racially based individualism.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rogin, Michael Paul. *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Footnote citation:

Michael Paul Rogin, *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1975), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Rogin, *Fathers and Children*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.117

Andrew Jackson

Sean Wilentz

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Times Books, 2005.

Excerpt

1829 did the House approve the bill, after protracted debate and several closely fought votes. Even then, twenty-four Jacksonians voted "nay" and twelve absented themselves. It took a solid turnout from Martin Van Buren's loyal New York delegation to carry the day for the administration. Van Buren himself, who regarded Indian removal as chiefly a southern issue and wished it had never arisen, later remarked that the outcome was so unpopular with New York voters it nearly destroyed his own political base.

Indian removal has, in recent historical writing, become the great moral stain on the Jacksonian legacy, much as it was to Christian humanitarian reformers in 1829 and 1830—a policy, supposedly, that aimed at the "infantilization" and "genocide" of the Indians, and that signaled a transition from the ethical community upheld by anti-removal men to Jackson's boundless individualism. The judgments confuse tragedy with melodrama. Compared to some of his chief political adversaries—notably Henry Clay, whose racist contempt for Indians had once prompted him to remark that their annihilation would cause "no great loss to the world"—Jackson was a sincere if unsentimental paternalist. He earnestly believed, with good reason, that his predecessors' hypocritical combination of high-minded rhetoric, treachery, and abandonment had been disastrous. Removal, he wrote, was the only practical means "to preserve this much-injured race" by placing them under federal protection, "free from the mercenary influence of White men," so that they might live as they saw fit. In view of the hard anti-Indian realities prevalent among whites in the lower South, that conclusion, although certainly patronizing to the Indians, was neither genocidal nor far-fetched.

The Cherokees' demand for full tribal sovereignty was, to Jackson, unconstitutional as well as impractical. Article IV, section 3, of the Constitution stated that "no new State shall be formed or erected within the Jurisdiction of any other State" without the approval of that state's legislature. If granted, tribal sovereignty would establish an irregular nation within a nation whose existence would present as great a potential threat to national integrity and security as the Carolina doctrine of nullification. Jackson's policy owed something to his persistent fear that independent, sovereign Indian nations would prove easy prey for manipulation by hostile foreign powers. It also conformed with his developing views on the division of powers between the federal government and the states—respecting the strict integrity of the states under the Constitution, while giving the federal government considerable powers above and beyond those held solely by the state governments. In the end, quite apart from protecting the Indians, removal was, in Jackson's view, the only way to safeguard the Constitution of the United States and the nation's survival.

Yet if Jackson's removal policy was not overtly malevolent, it was insidious—and, for the Indians, it was ruinous. Jackson the paternalist presumed that all Indians were "erratic in their habits" and inferior to all whites, a prejudice then widely but not universally shared. He presumed that he understood the Indians' welfare better than they did. And, in practice, the policy never matched Jackson's own high-minded professions. Jackson's promises about voluntary and compensated relocation would be constantly undermined by delays and by sharp dealing by government negotiators that pitted one tribal faction against another to obtain land quickly and cheaply— actions that Jackson would condone. The removal bill's allotment scheme invited an influx of outside speculators, who wound up buying from those Indians who chose not to relocate between 80 and 90 percent of their land at a fraction of its actual worth. The frauds persuaded many Indians who would have preferred to stay that they had no choice but to leave. So did the sinister coercion that undergirded the entire plan: those Indians who did not relocate would be left to the tender mercies of state governments—governments whose hostility to the Indians was one of Jackson's stated reasons for favoring removal. Above all, Jackson was determined to minimize federal costs and extinguish the

national debt, and provided woefully insufficient funds for the care and protection of the relocated. Although the worst suffering was inflicted after he left office, Jackson cannot escape responsibility for setting in motion a policy that uprooted tens of thousands of Choctaws, Chickasaws, and Creeks during his presidency, and that would later cost the lives of upwards of eight thousand Cherokees on the long trek west along the "Trail of Tears"—an outcome some anti-removal advocates had predicted.

The politics of Indian removal also reinforced elements within the Jackson Democracy who presumed the supremacy of whites over nonwhites, and interpreted any challenge to that supremacy as pretended philanthropy. To be sure, some of Jackson's opponents, notably Henry Clay, seized upon the issue and aided the anti-removal petition effort, contradicting their earlier views of the matter. But to reduce all of the critics, as Jackson and his supporters did, to ambitious and "factious" partisans was to confuse the opportunists with sincere humanitarians like Senator Freylinghuysen. In the political turmoil of the 1830s and after, this turn of mind would complicate and compromise the Jacksonian ideals of equality and democracy, by rendering all kinds of benevolent reform as crypto-aristocratic efforts to elevate blacks as well as Indians at the expense of ordinary white men. Those complications and compromises would, in the future, create havoc and tragedy for Jackson's party.

Congress's enactment of Indian removal, although narrowly won, was a welcome political victory for President Jackson amid the tribulations of the Eaton affair and the fracas with Vice President Calhoun. Jackson had proved that, on at least one issue, he was resourceful enough to impose his will on his faction-ridden government. He did so again, immediately after the removal bill passed, over the issue of internal improvements—this time by defying Congress instead of cajoling it.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Sean Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson* (New York: Times Books, 2005), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Wilentz, *Andrew Jackson*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 10 · SECONDARY SOURCE S10.118

Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab

Steve Inskeep

SELECTION	Twenty-four: Judicial
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Excerpt

It was gradually becoming apparent that the Georgians were on the verge of a strategic mistake. While Samuel Worcester was no longer a federal official, he was still a pastor, whose imprisonment would certainly cause an outcry. More to the point, he was a citizen of the United States, with a right to sue the Georgians in federal court if treated improperly.

Ever since the passage of the Indian Removal Act, John Ross had been trying to bring the defense of his nation's rights before the federal courts. He was acting on the advice of supporters in Congress, New Jersey's Theodore Frelinghuysen and the great Massachusetts senator Daniel Webster among others. As opponents of Jackson, both senators had a political motive to keep the Cherokee case going. But the lawmakers also had reason to believe that a court challenge would receive a sympathetic hearing. In May of 1830, Senator Frelinghuysen had received a letter:

Dear Sir

... I received your speech on the removal of the Indians which I have read with equal interest and attention. The subject has always appeared to me to affect deeply the honor, the faith and the character of our country. The cause of these oppressed people has been most ably though unsuccessfully sustained...

J. Marshall.

John Marshall was the chief justice of the United States. He made it clear that he would listen if a proper case reached him.

Going to court would cost thousands of dollars, and before Worcester's arrest President Jackson guaranteed that Ross would have trouble paying. It was in June 1830, soon after the passage of the Indian Removal Act, that Attorney General John Macpherson Berrien sent his letter urging the president to deny the Cherokees two great sources of strength, their printing press and their money. In a country that valued the freedom of the press it would take time to silence the Phoenix, but the Cherokees' funding was easily cut off. The Cherokee government's income derived principally from real estate. Past treaties ceding land to the federal government included an annuity to the Cherokee Nation: the United States was in effect making annual mortgage payments. Attorney General Berrien proposed that the United States should simply stop paying and defund the Cherokee resistance. Of course, default would be illegal, so the attorney general proposed a clever ruse, which Jackson accepted. Rather than outright refusing to pay the money, the administration would instead "insist upon its distribution among the Indians at large," spreading a few cents to each individual Cherokee so that the money conveyed no sustenance to their government. Cherokees adamantly refused to accept, and no payments were made for years. Ross would spend those years scrambling to pay lawyers, arranging loans from individual Cherokees, and raising money from sympathizers in northern cities. Sometimes when a bank draft arrived in the mail from New York or Boston, Ross sent it directly to his underpaid defense team. He nevertheless did engage Georgia lawyers to represent the Cherokees in state courts, and went looking for lawyers of great repute to work at the national level.

There was a moment when Ross believed that Senator Daniel Webster would join the defense team—Godlike Daniel, as his admirers called him, a public speaker so brilliant that it was later said that he could win a court case against the devil—but Webster was a busy man, not known for serving low-paying clients. Instead the lead role went to William Wirt of Baltimore. Wirt may have been the best possible choice, and if his name echoed less through the ages than Webster's, he was hardly less prominent at the time. He had served as attorney general under Presidents Monroe and Adams. He knew all the players in Washington. He was also a distinctive American character, author of a famous biography of the Revolutionary orator Patrick Henry, which Wirt apparently improved by inventing phrases that Henry never said, such as "Give me liberty or give me death." The book at least marked Wirt as a great wordsmith. Most important, Wirt had the stature and self-confidence to take the case even though he knew it would make an enemy of the president. Jackson wrote in the summer of 1830 that the lawyer's course was "truly wicked" and would "lead to the distruction of the poor ignorant Indians."

I have used all the persuasive means in my power; I have exonerated the national character from all imputation, and now leave the poor deluded creeks & cherokees to their fate, and their annihilation, which their wicked advisers has induced.

It was a private letter, but Wirt and the Cherokees did not need to see it to know they were on their own.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Inskeep, Steve. *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab*. New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Steve Inskeep, *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab* (New York: Penguin Press, 2015), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Inskeep, *Jacksonland*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.01

The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860

Calvin Schermerhorn

SELECTION	onclusion
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 242–243 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

State and federal banking policies also made slavery pay, whether in the Second Bank of the United States' foreign exchange business of the 1820s or in the expansive chartering of state banks in the following decade. Those policies complemented liberalized trade that lowered transportation costs for cotton and finished goods to and from Britain. Louisiana briefly became the most credit-laden, most monetized state in the nation thanks to banking expansion, trade liberalization, and the credit elasticity provided by the bodies of enslaved people disembarked in New Orleans by the hundreds, along with the lands they cultivated. But Lavergne, Forstall, and Moussier did not merely fill the purses of their fellow Creole planters and merchants with banknotes or tie their ambitions, expectations, and imaginations to fulfilling investors' expectations. Expansion of credit also improved production technology and advanced commercial development. It added to the agricultural lands on which Great Britain depended for its rise among the powers of the earth. As slavery's bankers made flesh-and-blood bondspersons into immortal promises, Franklin and Armfield served the resulting expansion of southern commercial agriculture.

Isaac Franklin realized that credit and the movement of money were keys to success in the interstate slave trade. As his firm grew, he tapped into New Orleans's commercial network and became a client of Forstall's Union Bank. Cotton bills of exchange and Union Bank drafts decreased the tax on geographic distance that had diminished the returns of small operators like Rives. The chain of credit that linked the Union Bank and New Orleans merchants to New York merchants, bankers, and overseas investors gave Franklin and Armfield competitive advantages when it lowered transaction costs. Lines of credit from property banks in Louisiana and Mississippi also permitted Franklin to extend retail credit to customers, and his firm's size allowed him to accept lower South buyers' bills and other financial paper while offering local banknotes to slaveholders in the Chesapeake. His career illustrates that trust, imagination, and nerve were virtues in the slavery business.

Franklin and Armfield built a thousand-mile slave-supply chain that funneled a thousand or so bondspersons per year from Alexandria, Richmond, and Norfolk to New Orleans and Natchez. Most were embarked on New England–built company ships, which were custom-made for the firm. Hundreds of other captives were marched overland each year between the firm's regional headquarters and passed among company agents. By 1834 Franklin and Armfield was run on railroad-like management principles and behaved like a vertically integrated organization. There were few contemporary industries that required such agile entrepreneurship. Railroads were then in their infancy, and no steamboat line in the country had Franklin and Armfield's geographic reach. Yet even Franklin's forceful leadership could not keep control over the growth that splintered the firm in 1836, the peak year of the interstate slave trade.

The slavery business of the 1840s exemplified the cash nexus that capitalism's radical and conservative critics argued eroded sociality and erased human dignity. But in an irony not lost on captives like Solomon Northup, commercial technology that threatened to sever human ties of community and grind down individual creativity delivered Theophilus Freeman's firm competitive advantages. Freeman partnered with non-relatives, using weak ties of status and geographic advantage to build a supply chain in a mechanical market. Like most innovators, he used technology as part of a business strategy, and the landscape of competition in the early 1840s discouraged vertical organization or the formation of a Franklin-and-Armfield-like interlocking partnership. Freeman's firm relied on railroads and steamboats, and it heartlessly cut costs by kidnapping captives and refusing to spend money mitigating risks to their

lives and health.

By the 1850s slavery's capitalism developed into proslavery imperialism, and market efficiencies provided by steam locomotion helped unmoor slave prices from commodity prices. Charles Morgan used transportation technologies as part of an aggressive business strategy to dominate the Gulf Coast steamship trade between New Orleans and the Texas coast, becoming one of the largest shippers of enslaved people in the 1850s United States. Transportation advances annihilated distances among market centers, and steamship merchants were the quintessential capitalists of an era of rampant U.S. expansion and development. The cotton kingdom's dynamism propelled an enterprise in which slavery's expansion fit seamlessly with the disorderly forces of American imperialism. With the proceeds of the Texas trade Morgan built a company capable of exercising power as a nonstate actor when developing the Nicaragua route. Though he lost the Transit War to Cornelius Vanderbilt, Morgan's Nicaragua scheme was part of a geoeconomic process in which private firms' strategies influenced and even undermined U.S. geopolitical interests.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schermerhorn, Calvin. *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Calvin Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860* (Yale University Press, 2015), 242–243.

Shortened citation:

Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*, 242–243.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.02

Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War

David L. Lightner

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 170–171 · Supplied edition: New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Excerpt

It is somewhat paradoxical that while reform efforts were going nowhere in the South, and while the whole issue of the interstate slave trade was receiving only modest attention in the North, the American domestic slave trade was emerging as an important subject of debate in Great Britain. At the start of the war, the British government had proclaimed its neutrality. But few British people were neutral in sentiment. Some looked with sympathy on the Confederate cause, partly because it was obvious that a divided America would be less likely to rival Britain either economically or militarily. Moreover, the new southern republic because of its overwhelmingly agricultural economy could be expected to pursue a free trade policy. Thus it would offer an expanded market for British industrial products as well as continue to supply cotton to the mills of Lancashire. On the other hand, however, slavery had not existed in the British empire for a generation, and most Britons viewed it with disdain. Much of the debate in Britain therefore focused on the crucial question of whether the American Civil War was a battle over slavery or merely a southern effort to resist northern dominance and oppression. British public opinion was deeply divided on that question, and the division cut across class lines.Ω

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lightner, David L. *Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Footnote citation:

David L. Lightner, *Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006), 170–171.

Shortened citation:

Lightner, *Slavery and the Commerce Power*, 170–171.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.03

The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism

Edward E. Baptist

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2014.

Excerpt

Ultimately, however, despite something of a northern consensus that slavery was backward and inefficient, and despite the hard times of the previous decade, plenty of southern readers and talkers answered the question of whether or not the South could continue to use slavery as its recipe for modern economic development with a resounding yes. Take Josiah Nott, an Alabama racial theorist and a physician, who argued that mosquitoes, not swampy mists, transmitted malaria and yellow fever. In 1851, he wrote that "7,000,000 people" in the North, Britain, and France, "depend for their existence upon keeping employed the 3,000,000 negroes in the Southern states." Emancipation would be in such circumstances "the most stupendous example of human folly." A "network of cotton" wove enslaved people into the web of "human progress," and without their forced labor, it would unravel.

Over the decade, in fact, the ability of hands to undercut free and serf labor with ruthless efficiency reconfirmed the idea that whether or not Nott was right, Olmsted was wrong. In the hands of cotton entrepreneurs, slavery was a highly efficient way to produce economic growth, both for white southerners and for others outside the region. In the 1850s, southern production of cotton doubled from 2 million to 4 million bales, with no sign of either slowing down or of quenching the industrial West's thirst for raw materials. The world's consumption of cotton grew from 1. billion to 2. billion pounds, and at the end of the decade the hands of US fields were still picking two-thirds of all of it, and almost all of that which went to Western Europe's factories. By 1860, the eight wealthiest states in the United States, ranked by wealth per white person, were South Carolina, Mississippi, Louisiana, Georgia, Connecticut, Alabama, Florida, and Texas—seven states created by cotton's march west and south, plus one that, as the most industrialized state in the Union, profited disproportionately from the gearing of northern factory equipment to the southwestern whipping-machine.

Although the whipping-machine could be astonishingly good at extracting productivity increases, some southern enslavers worried that dependence on world demand for cotton left the South vulnerable to two dangers: first, to the global economy's vagaries, and second, to a future in which the northern states' immigrationdriven population growth steadily sapped southern political power. Regional newspapers and magazines regularly featured articles arguing that the South should create a diversified economy that included a profitable factory sector, which could provide jobs that would attract white labor to the South. In an 1855 issue of DeBow's Review, for instance, William Gregg described his Graniteville, South Carolina, manufacturing complex, which he claimed was earning a profit of more than 11 percent. Others insisted that mining, iron-forging, and factory work could employ enslaved black labor. In quantitative terms, slave labor in southern factories produced as high a rate of net profit as slave labor in the fields. It was also as productive as free labor in the Northeast. Slaves staffed most of the expanding iron foundries of Virginia.

From the 1830s onward, industrial activity had increased significantly in the South, and enslaved labor was one reason why. landscape. In the 1840s, southern railroads had expanded from 683 miles in total length to 2,162 miles. But this increase was much lower than that in the free states, which in the same time period created a 7,000-mile network concentrated in the Northeast and Middle Atlantic states. During the 1850s, good times returned, and southern railroad construction projects increased the regional network there to 10,000 miles in length. Corners of Alabama and Georgia, interior Florida, and East Texas had been too many days of wagon-hauling away from steamboat landings to become profitable cotton belts. But the railroads snaking up into hill counties made areas

dominated by yeomen and poor whites ripe for transformation. Land speculation companies began to evict squatters. As total southern wealth increased, a new generation of poor whites found themselves turned into unwanted drifters, despised and feared by planters moving into the new railroad-opened regions.
When Olmsted visited Columbus, Georgia, men told him that the local textile factory's 20,000 cotton spindles were tended by displaced "cracker girls," whose jobs supposedly saved them from the temptations of prostitution. Southern factories would occupy whites newly forced into landlessness, ameliorating the disruptive impact of the modern market on the Jeffersonian ideal of the independent small farmer as the backbone of the white republic.

Still, southern cotton planters realized that their own increased dependence on financial decisionmakers from outside their region was a thorny problem. Financial collapses and the sovereign defaults that southwestern states had executed during the era of repudiation made it impossible for would-be southern bankers to recapitalize themselves in the 1840s. But cotton demand began to climb again after 1848, leading to the longest period of high prices in the nineteenth century. Although southern state governments were rated as poor credit risks after their legislative repudiations, every year southern entrepreneurs sold the vast majority of the world's most widely traded commodity, so there was profit to be made from investing in the whipping-machine. Moreover, the 3. million people enslaved in the United States had a market value of $1. billion in 1850—one-fifth of the nation's wealth and almost equal to the entire gross national product. They were more liquid than other forms of American property, even if an acre of land couldn't run away or kill an overseer with an axe.

Yet since the debt-and-repudiation crisis of the early 1840s, enslaved people were no longer being fully tapped as collateral by world financial markets. One untold story of US prosperity and global economic growth in the 1850s would be the creation of a new set of credit flows that used enslaved people's bodies, lives, and hands as the basis for lending in the cotton economy and profit-sharing by investors outside of it. This new financial ecology replaced the chaos of the 1840s, which in turn had succeeded the credit structures of the 1830s. In the 1830s, the securitization of mortgages on enslaved people through the medium of bonds sold on distant financial markets by plantercontrolled, state-chartered banks had dominated and organized the flow of credit into the southwestern cotton frontier. The new system of the 1850s would finance massive new expansions in the southwestern United States while also allowing world capital markets to take advantage of the massive collateral held by enslavers. But this new system would not give enslavers what they had lost with the panics of 1837 and 1839, and with repudiation, and this was the control over the flow of credit and repayment that enslavers had once been able to exert.

The new financial ecology was brought into being by start-up firms launched by northerners with small amounts of capital, who moved to southern ports in the wake of 1839 to buy cotton. These were companies such as, for instance, Lehman Brothers of Mobile, Alabama. In the disrupted environment left by the destruction of the old mercantile firms, these new organisms acquired an old name, "factor," which had a long history in the Atlantic slave trade, and their role in the cotton economy evolved quickly.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Baptist, Edward E. *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism*. New York: Basic Books, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Edward E. Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism* (Basic Books, 2014), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.04

The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders

James Oakes

SELECTION	The Slaveholders' Pilgrimage
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 93–94 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982.

Excerpt

The town store was the most readily available agency of credit, supplying farmers with groceries, tools, and other goods for twelve farmers and slaveholders who did not own their own cotton gin usually went not to a nearby planter but to the local gin house or country store, where ginning was frequently provided as another service. Finally, store owners marketed the crops of small slaveholders, accumulating large concentrations of cotton and selling it to their own factors. It could be a very lucrative business, and store owners were often among the most influential men in the community. They frequently possessed large numbers of slaves. "Sometimes three or five years business would be so profitable to a sober and prudent merchant as to enable him to retire," H. S. Fulkerson observed. The store owner would then "sell out to his clerks or go to planting, or to New Orleans to engage in larger operations." Fulkerson recalled one store in which three sets of partners made their fortunes in less than fifteen years. Thus the one institution that might have brought some stability to the slaveholders' world was caught up in the same restlessness that kept the slaveholders forever on the move and on the make.[55] Town life was as unstable as rural life in the Old South. Businesses changed hands over and over, particularly among innkeepers. The same credit system that kept the stores going and created so many small fortunes was particularly vulnerable to the boom-and-bust cycle for which the credit system was largely responsible.5° The mobile society which the small town was uniquely capable of serving could also be the town's nemesis: one sweep of "Alabama fever" might empty a village, leaving a hull where once there had been a _ thriving community.

LIKE A SACRED PILGRIMAGE, westward migration justified itself. In many ways, the perpetual exodus of American slaveholders was a futile effort by a highly structured society to fulfill its own egalitarian ideal. For movement generally necessitated the abandonment of the settled community, the destruction of established relationships, and the reduction of the physical environment to a universal level of subsistence. In part, the slaveholders' restlessness reveals the ambivalence that arose as slavery drew more and more Southerners out of the subsistence economy and into a market culture.

Author's Notes

55. Lewis E. Atherton, The Southern Country Store, 1800-1860 (Baton Rouge, La., 1949), 21 and passim.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Oakes, James. *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1982.

Footnote citation:

James Oakes, *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders* (Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982), 93–94.

Shortened citation:

Oakes, *The Ruling Race*, 93–94.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.05

The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America

Joshua D. Rothman

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2021.

Excerpt

the mob's fury, and if they could undercut a competitor and curry favor with potential customers as they cleared their own names, all the better.' Franklin himself was annoyed but undeterred. The cholera epidemic would pass. Franklin's banks would keep his credit lines open, Armfield and Ballard would keep providing him enslaved people to sell, and white people exercised and indignant about the slave trade and slave traders would eventually let their interests trump their fears and purported ethics. They always did. Franklin admitted nothing. He ignored the mounting anger and claimed that "he was absent from the city at the time these bodies must have been buried," and when the slave-trading ban came down, he moved. He sold his pen and showroom in the city and set up shop about a mile to the east instead, just beyond the city line at a Y-shaped intersection of two major thoroughfares connecting Natchez to cotton lands in the Mississippi countryside. The spot was known as the Forks of the Road.

There, the company led by Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and Rice Ballard reassumed its place as the largest slave-trading business in the country.' In 1808, Congress exercised its constitutional prerogative to end the legal importation of enslaved people from outside the United States. But it did not end domestic slave trading, effectively creating a federally protected internal market for human beings. Already growing by the early nineteenth century, interior commerce in the enslaved was part of a massive forced migration underpinning slavery's expansion in the six decades before the Civil War. Between 1800 and 1860, American slaveholders sent roughly one million Black people from the upper South to the lower South, moving in the span of sixty years over twice as many people as were transported in two centuries to mainland North America via the transatlantic slave trade from Africa. They were responsible for the movement of millions more within individual states.

By the time they were through, the number of enslaved people in the United States had more than quadrupled, the number of slave states below the Mason-Dixon Line had nearly doubled, and slavery had crossed the Mississippi River and the Rio Grande.® The extension of slavery, seen across the Atlantic world in the nineteenth century, both furthered and was nurtured by technological, economic, political, and ideological changes that ushered in the modern age. Central to the process in the United States were the appearance of the cotton gin and the steam-powered sugar mill, the introduction of steamboats and railroads, the dispossession and expulsion of southeastern Indian nations, the rise of an imperialist and racist white male democracy, and the evolution of an interconnected system of national markets. As these developments converged with the maturation of transatlantic industrial textile production and global credit systems, demand for the enslaved, particularly in cotton and sugar plantation districts of the lower South, escalated dramatically. So did their market value.

By 1860, four million enslaved people in the United States were a pillar of American prosperity, cumulatively worth more than the whole country had invested in manufacturing, railroads, and banks put together.' White migrants to the lower South sometimes satisfied their own demand as they moved, collectively bringing with them several hundred thousand people they already enslaved. Domestic slave traders satisfied the rest, rushing to fill the market space left by the federal prohibition on imports of slaves from overseas. Capitalizing especially on a declining tobacco economy that yielded a "surplus" of slaves in the Chesapeake states of Maryland and Virginia, traders trafficked over half a million men, women, and children across state lines, locking them in holds of brigs and schooners, securing them on flatboats and steamboats and railroad cars, and fettering them with shackles for months-long marches of a thousand miles or more. Few slave traders were more successful, and none were more

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothman, Joshua D. *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America*. New York: Basic Books, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Joshua D. Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America* (Basic Books, 2021), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.06

Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery

Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman

SELECTION	SLAVERY IN THE CITIES
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 95–96 · Supplied edition: Little, Brown (reissued W. W. Norton), 1974.

Excerpt

"natural limits" thesis holds that the rise in ratio of slave labor to land eventually would have reduced the value of a slave to less than his subsistence cost. The rise in the laborto-land ratio seemed assured, since the land suitable for cotton was limited while the supply of slave labor was bound to grow with the growth of the slave population. The cities would not have provided an outlet for this excess bein which slavery could not persist. One might be inclined to dismiss the natural limits thesis out of hand. It appears to depend on the assumption that slaves could be used only in the production of cotton. Aside from the slur that slaves could not be taught other occupations, the assumption obviously exaggerates the identity between the cotton culture and slavery. As pointed out in chapter 2, about percent of slaves worked in towns, and 20 percent of those living on plantations were employed as artisans and semiskilled workers of various sorts. Still, close to 60 percent of slaves were involved in one or another aspect of cotton production.

Although the cotton culture was not identical with slavery, it was one of the most important occupations of slaves. The crude form of the natural limits thesis can be modified by arguing, not that all slaves had to be employed in the cotton culture, but that the proportion of slaves employed in cotton had to remain at about the antebellum level. The justification for limiting the flow of slaves into other areas of production need not imply a calumny against Negroes. It could be based on the argument that the slave system of labor organization was too rigid to permit the efficient involvement of a larger percentage of slaves in nonagricultural activity than had been achieved during the antebellum era. In any case, there is a sufficiently large group of adherents to the natural limits thesis to warrant an objective test of it. Appendix B presents an equation that makes such a test possible.

This equation enables one to predict the change in slave prices, given information on the cotton prices, the output of cotton, the size of the Tabor force employed in cotton farming, the cost of slave maintenance, and_the market rate of interest. The values of all these variables for the post—Civil War era are known — except the rate of growth of the slave labor force that would have been employed in cotton production and the cost of slave maintenance. However, the unknown values are supplied by the natural limits thesis itself. Given the requirement that the proportion of the labor force devoted to cotton remain constant, and given the constancy in the labor-force participation rate, the rate of growth of slave labor devoted to cotton would have been equal to the rate of growth of the Negro population. Moreover, the natural limits thesis implicitly accepts the relative constancy, if not of the absolute standard of living, of at least the relative income shares of slaves. Hence, maintenance costs would have moved with gross earnings. The results of the test are presented in figure 29.

It shows that far from falling, the prices of slaves would have risen. Indeed the average annual rate of increase between 1860 and 1890 would have been 1. percent, a figure slightly lower a) than the prewar trend of growth. In other words, prime hands in 1890 would have sold at 52 percent more than they did in 1860. This startling conclusion was completely unanticipated by the proponents of the natural limits thesis. It rests on two solid facts. The first, is that the demand for American cotton grew a little more rapidly than the supply, not only until 1890 but right up to World War I. 'Hence the real price of cotton was higher in 18g00 than in 1860. the quantity of land devoted to cotton did not remain constant at the 1859 level. Quite the contrary, it grew at a rate ($2.^{06}$ percent per annum) which was in excess of the growth rate of the black labor force. In other words, the assumption that the quantity of additional land

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fogel, Robert William, and Stanley L. Engerman. *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (Little, Brown (reissued W. W. Norton), 1974), 95–96.

Shortened citation:

Engerman, *Time on the Cross*, 95–96.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.07

Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore

Seth Rockman

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

so free a nation. The emergence of this new political economy intensified economic insecurity for the overwhelming majority of urban workers. And in turn, the intensification of economic insecurity for urban workers opened new avenues to prosperity for those who were in the position to purchase labor.

This interrelated process has consequences for how scholars narrate American economic development and date the emergence of a recognizably capitalist society. Historians have generally avoided rigid theoretical definitions of capitalism but tend instead to "know it when we see it." Different historians have dated capitalism's arrival to Alexander Hamilton's program of national finance; to the technological innovations that jump-started manufacturing in places like Pawtucket and Lowell; to the immersion of rural families in an expanding consumer culture; to the intensification of commercial agriculture; and to the rise of new men liberated from the artificial hierarchies of the colonial era, from aristocratic scorn for work, and from cultural prohibitions against self-interest. The advance of capitalism in the early republic period is variously symbolized by an explosion of canal and turnpike construction linking distant regions in a common market, by the proliferation of banks and the circulation of cash as the medium of exchange, and by the reconfiguration of law to facilitate the granting of corporate charters and sanctify property rights.° For all their variety, scholarly accounts of early republic economic change have been content to define capitalism by its manifestations and effects rather than by its underlying social relations. Too often capitalism appears as a synonym for market exchange and not as a political economy that dictated who worked where, on what terms, and to whose benefit. But to follow the careers of low-end laborers through an early republic boomtown like Baltimore lays bare those rules and the unequal relationships of power that propelled economic development in the decades following the American Revolution.'

The aspect of capitalism that took the longest to arrive was a "free market" in labor, where workers could choose their own employers, receive cash wages for their time, quit at will, and toil free of physical violence. In the Marxist tradition, this system of free labor is the sine qua non of capitalism, and its halting, inconsistent, and incomplete arrival to the American workplace has long confounded efforts to understand the economy of the early republic United States."

The decades between the American Revolution and the Civil War saw substantial growth in the percentage of workers exchanging labor for a wage, but such workers were not the majority who powered national economic development. Outpiel side the wage system stood the larger number of Americans who labored within that sustained wage-earning workers, or who labored as slaves growing-catton, the nation's most valuable commodity. Complicating matters further, many work- < ers who earned wages did so without any semblance of market freedom. Those whose skin color, sex, or age stripped them of civil rights or prevented them from traveling in search of better wages could hardly be said to meet their employers as equals in the marketplace. Even enslaved workers sometimes earned wages, though they lacked the legal power to keep them. As important, patriarchal presumptions of women's dependence limited the jobs available to female workers and set their pay so low that it guaranteed dependence on male breadwinners or on the social welfare institutions of the state. Custom set women's wages, not ebbs and flows in the labor supply.

Studies of early republic enterprise have shown just how essential such workers were to production in iron forges, chemical factories, and textile mills. Attending to this reality underscores Joseph Schumpeter's observation that "the

capitalist order rests on props made of extra-capitalist material.”! The persistence and expansion of slavery has proved especially vexing to historians trying to explain capitalism's development in the early republic. By many accounts, slavery constituted an entirely different mode of production, whose destruction was a necessary precondition for capitalism's emergence. Whether owing to Marxist models of social development, to the common depiction of the Civil War as a battle between slavery and free labor, or to the proclivity of American scholars to equate capitalism with human liberation, the general tendency has been to depict capitalism and slavery as fundamentally incompatible systems. From the standpoint of simple labor economics, slavery should disappear where free workers predominate, and vice versa. According to such arguments, employers would never invest capital in their labor force when they could instead hire and fire free workers whose self-interest motivated them to toil more diligently than hopeless slaves.

In contrast, free workers would avoid places where slavery was the dominant system of labor, lest they call into question their own freedom and risk racial degradation. Slavery would also depress wages because employers would have no need to entice workers with better pay so long as profits were, in the words of one visitor to Baltimore, “pinched and screwed out of the Negro.”3 Historians are now reconsidering the presumptive antagonism of slavery and capitalism. One approach has involved thinking about slavery less as a labor system-and more as a property regime—that is, as a legally protected way of investing, storing, transporting, and bequeathing wealth. Even in locations where wage a productive, slavery could remain vital because owners held on to slaves as commodities rather than as workers. So long as someone somewhere was willing to pay for that commoad;tulelaccotetaimed “ calien thane nL. aa

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rockman, Seth. *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Seth Rockman, *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Rockman, *Scraping By*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.08

Empire of Cotton: A Global History

Sven Beckert

SELECTION	hapter 6: Industrial Capitalism Takes Wing
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf (pb. Vintage), 2014.

Excerpt

Brazil's budding cotton entrepreneurs faced other problems as well. As capital was bound up in the production and trade in agricultural commodities produced by slave labor and in the slave trade itself, industrial enterprises often lacked access to credit. Moreover, labor recruitment remained a problem. Because of the prevalence of slavery, little wage labor was available for industrial employment, since Europeans, unwilling to compete with slave labor, preferred to migrate to other parts of the continent, such as Argentina. As a result, mills drew on a mixture of wage and slave labor. But generally, labor was concentrated in agriculture, and merchants saw "industry and agriculture…as rivals for available labor."

Plantation slavery's imperatives, the case of Brazil shows, could be detrimental to industrialization. Not that slave labor as such was incompatible with manufacturing—to the contrary, slaves could be employed in cotton factories. However, a society dominated by slavery was not conducive to cotton industrialization. Early industrialization depended, globally, on war capitalism, but in regions of the globe in which war capitalism took on its most violent edge cotton industrialization never resulted. Cuba, for example, relied on a massive number of enslaved workers, and yet did not have a single cotton mill during the entire nineteenth century. The state of war between private parties at the heart of war capitalism contradicted the emerging imperatives of industrial capitalism. It was thus not just the capacity of states that explains the spread of cotton manufacturing, but also the distribution of power within them. Slave states were notoriously late and feeble in supporting the political and economic interests of domestic industrializers.

This was also the case in the slave territories within the United States, the only country in the world divided between war and industrial capitalism, a unique characteristic that would eventually spark an unprecedentedly destructive civil war. In the southern United States, one of the world's most dynamic slave economies, there was little cotton industrialization before the 1880s. To be sure, during and after the Revolutionary War some mechanized cotton manufacturing emerged in the southern states, and during the 1830s and thereafter a few textile mills opened their doors. But as late as 1850, southern cotton mills only consumed seventy-eight thousand bales of cotton, or one-sixth of the cotton consumption of New England. Further expansion of manufacturing, just as in Brazil, was hampered by the thriving slave economy that concentrated capital, labor, and entrepreneurial talent on plantations, limited the size of markets, made the region unattractive to European immigrants, and did not force white yeoman farmers into wage work (unlike, say, in New England and the Black Forest).

War capitalism, in di□erent ways, also limited opportunities for industrialization elsewhere. The great premodern cotton power of India did not just fail to leap forward via mechanization, but experienced the world's most rapid and cataclysmic deindustrialization ever. Faced with huge imports of ever cheaper cotton yarns and fabrics from its colonial ruler, and denied the services of its own government, India's cotton industry was decimated—□rst its production for export, and then its domestic spinning. In the wake of the Industrial Revolution, as we have seen, India lost its once central position in the global cotton industry and, in a great historical irony, eventually became the world's largest market for British cotton exports.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven. *Empire of Cotton: A Global History*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert, *Empire of Cotton: A Global History* (Alfred A. Knopf (pb. Vintage), 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Beckert, *Empire of Cotton*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.09

Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds.

SELECTION	hapter 1: Towards a Political Economy of Slave Labor
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 42–43 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

“A man who has arrived at the age of twenty- fi ve, before he sees a cotton fi eld,” Ball deci ded, “ will never, in the language of the overseers, become a crack picker.”[28] Yet many millions of enslaved people did become crack pickers. Th e amount of cotton enslaved people harvested increased dramatically over time. In 1801, 28 pounds per day per picker was the average in the South Carolina labor camps for which we have rec ords. In 1846, the hands on a Mississippi labor camp averaged 341 pounds each on a good day, and in the next de cade averages climbed higher still.[29] A study of planter account books that recorded daily picking totals for individual enslaved people on labor camps across the South fi nds a growth in daily picking averages of some 400 percent between 1800 and 1860, or a 2.[1] percent growth in productivity each year.[30]

Th e increase in the effi ciency of cotton picking was extremely high, comparable in magnitude to key mea sures of growing effi ciency in the British textile factory, the breeding ground of the factory system’s technological innovations. From 1819 to 1860, the productivity of workers in Manchester spinning mills increased by a little less than 400 percent, while those in weaving mills improved by over 600 percent.[31]

Yet until very recently, most historians missed the increase in cottonpicking effi ciency. And this means they missed a secret at the heart of the modern world’s emergence.[32] Recently, however, two economists who noticed the increase and confi rmed it by creating a massive database from the thousands of daily cotton weigh- ins recorded in enslavers’ cotton- picking ledgers tried to off er an explanation. Th ey rejected the idea that enslavers implemented a new labor system to extract continual gains in cotton picking, or that enslaved people worked faster and with greater effi ciency. Instead, they postulated that a crucial shift in planter- directed “biotechnology”— new va ri e ties of short- staple cotton seeds, especially, from the 1820s on, a breed called Petit Gulf, adapted for heavy growth and “pickability”— was responsible for transforming the effi ciency of cotton harvesting.[33] But their argument cannot explain all the available facts.

Th e inadequacies of the economists’ explanation emerge as soon as one begins to look at the very cotton rec ord books on which the claim for pickability is based. Th ese rec ords mea sure nothing about seeds and every thing about the per for mance of individual laborers. Yet to explain the per for mance thus recorded, the economists uncritically reproduce the seeds- did-it assertion from the claims of planters who dabbled in seed dealing.[34] Self- advertisement usually does not make the most objective of sources about products, as other cotton planters who were skeptical about such claims often pointed out.[35] Th e economists also make a series of logical errors in their attempt to draw the conclusion that seeds, and not an increased intensity of labor or new systems of labor, led to the rise in cotton picking rates.[36]

In the absence of the kind of slavery into which Ball had been sold, seeds seem to have been incapable of driving picking- effi ciency increases. From the 1830s on, British offi cials and entrepreneurs repeatedly tried to resuscitate the Indian export cotton sector, which had been crushed by its peasant producers’ inability to compete with the continually falling real price of cotton produced by enslaved African Americans. Th ey imported North American planters’ seeds, North American cotton planters’ gins, and even North American planters themselves, all to help them to learn how to produce cotton of the high quality and low price that, shipped from New Orleans to Liverpool, dominated the world market. But the British didn’t import North American slavery, and without it, these attempts to

compete with the U.S. South's enslaved cotton pickers always failed. Meanwhile, back in the United States, after slavery ended in 1865, picking rates appear to have stopped increasing, and may have even declined. Perhaps some change in the nature of cotton DNA meant that seeds, by a remarkable coincidence, stopped driving increases in picking rates right at the time when slavery ended. But this would be strange, because the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries were exactly when the United States saw the emergence of a new scientifi c research complex in higher education, industry, and government, much of it devoted to agricultural innovation. Yet with the end of slavery's systems of labor extraction, the cotton South experienced a systemic decline in productivity from which it never fully recovered.

Any persuasive explanation for the rise in picking effi ciency must take seriously something that the economists in question admit they never considered. Th ose who survived this incredible increase in labor effi ciency knew that something well, however, and focus on it in the testimony they left for history. Using their testimony, I will explain why picking totals actually rose, and what that meant. First, however, I want to consider why the astonishing dynamic increase in the effi ciency of slave labor has remained largely unknown to history.

Author's Notes

1. Louis A. Pérez, ed., Impressions of Cuba in the Nineteenth Century: Th e Travel Diary of Joseph J. Dimock (Wilmington, Del.: Scholarly Resources, 1998), xii; Laird W. Bergad, Cuban Rural Society in the Nineteenth Century: Th e Social and Economic History of Monoculture in Matanzas (Prince ton, N.J.: Prince ton University Press, 1990), 322n28. See also Stephen M.

27. Ball, Slavery in the United States, 184–87; Solomon Northup, Twelve Years a Slave, as told to and edited by David Wilson (Auburn, N.Y.: Derby and Miller, 1852), 134, 142–43; William Walker, Buried Alive (Behind Prison Walls) for a Quarter of a Century (Saginaw, Mich.: Friedman and Hynan, 1892), 17; Anderson, Life and Narrative, 18; J. W. C. Pennington, Narrative of the Events of the Life of J. H. Banks (Liverpool: M. Rourke, 1861), 68; Mary Younger testimony in Drew, A North- Side View of Slavery, 258. We should note this on the profi tability of women versus men in cotton fi elds: enslavers still considered men more profitable than women, in part because men picked more cotton. But the ratio of male/female productivity was closer to one in cotton picking than in the key operations of other crops. At the same time, it was greater than one (men were more productive), and enslavers were regularly enraged about the frequency with which women missed cotton picking time because of menstruation, pregnancy, childbirth, and recovery— hence the lower price for women in the New Orleans and other markets (about 70 percent of male prices). "To make money men are required[,] or boys large enough": John Haywood to George W. Haywood, February 5, 1842; see also John Haywood to George W. Haywood, March 17, 1839, Haywood Family Papers, SHC; "[because] We have not a pregnant woman on the plantation[,] the females are the better pickers and have saved much the larger portion of the crop": Paul Cameron to Duncan Cameron, December 2, 1845, folder 973, Cameron Papers, SHC.

28. Ball, Slavery in the United States, 217; see also Mary Ker to Isaac Baker, November 19, 1820, Ker Family Papers, SHC; J. S. Haywood to Dear Sister, May 3, 1839, folder 156, Haywood Family Papers, SHC; A. K. Barlow to J.J. Phillips, April 23, 1849, folder 1, Ivan P. Battle Papers, SHC; James Harriss to Th omas Harriss, September 14, 1845, Th omas W. Harriss Papers, Duke; John Knight to William Beall, February 7, 1844, and April 14, 1844, John Knight Papers, Duke; Robert B. Beverley to Robert Beverley, September 3, 1833, sec. 13, Beverley Family Papers, Virginia Historical Society (hereafter VHS).

29. Alan Olmstead and Paul Rhode, "Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth in the Antebellum Cotton Economy," NBER Working Paper 14142 (Cambridge, Mass.: National Bureau of Economic Research, 2008), 22; James Magruder Account Book and Plantation Journal, 1796–1818, Magruder Papers, RASP, ser. N, reel 12; R. & M. Timberlake to Dear Mother and Brother, December 26, 1829, Neal Family Papers, SHC; Wm. R. Arick to Joseph S. Copes, October 22, 1846, folder 82, Joseph Slemmons Copes Papers, Special Collections, Howard- Tilton Library, Tulane University; see also Elley Plantation Book, 1855–1856, RASP, ser. N, reel 10; early daily totals from Charles Rowand, "Cotton," American Farmer 3, no. 38 (December 14, 1821): 298; Ball, Slavery in the United States, 186–87; Magnolia Plantation Journal, August 31, 1838, folder 429, Ballard Papers, SHC; 1835 numbers from Burrell Fox to Eliza Neal, September 25, 1835; 100–30 pounds per day in 1829 from R. and M. Timberlake to Dear Mother and Brother, December 26, 1829, both Neal Family Papers, SHC; see Phanor Prudhomme Cotton Book, 1836, folder 267, and Phanor Prudhomme Cotton Book, 1852, folder 271, both Prudhomme Family Papers, SHC; D. W. Mc Ken zie to Duncan McLaurin, September 26, 1840, 357 suffi cient statistical evidence with which to obtain a reasonably sound overall view of overseas trade and shipping from 1775–1790," thus making the sort of colony or port- specifi c type of analy sis provided here extremely diffi cult. See James F. Shepherd and Gary M. Walton, "Economic Change after the American Revolution: Pre- and Post- War Comparisons of Maritime Shipping and Trade," Explorations in Economic History 13 (1976): 397–422, quotation at 397.

30. Olmstead and Rhode, "Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth," 1–2.

31. D. A. Farnie, Th e En glish Cotton Industry and the World Market, 1815–1896 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1979), 199.

32. Fogel et al., eds., Without Consent or Contract, vol. 1, Technical Papers, 72–80; John Olson, “Clock Time Versus Real Time: A Comparison of the Lengths of the Northern and Southern Agricultural Work Years,” ibid., 216–40; Metzer, “Rational Management,” ibid., 191– 215; Robert W. Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, “Explaining the Relative Effi ciency of Slave Agriculture in the Antebellum South,” American Economic Review 67 (1977): 275–96.

33. Olmstead and Rhode, “Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth.” Th ey retell the argument in a series of articles, but the essence of it is contained in the paper cited here. J. A. Turner, Th e Cotton Planter’s Manual: Being a Compilation of Facts From the Best Authorities on the Culture of Cotton; Its Natu ral History, Chemical Analy sis, Trade, and Consumption; And Embracing a History of Cotton and the Cotton Gin (New York: O. Judd and Co., 1857), 36, 99–102; John Hebron Moore, Agriculture in Ante-Bellum Mississippi (New York: Bookman Associates, 1958), 27–36, 145–60.

34. Planters wrote obsessively in their agricultural publications about the quest for new cotton va ri e ties, which some selected and marketed to peers under iconic brand names such as “Mastodon,” “100 Seed,” “Sugar Loaf,” and “Prolifi c.” Turner, Th e Cotton Planter’s Manual, 99–102. A later (1865) edition of Turner’s book reproduces an 1848 claim about a new seed “with extraordinary picking qualities.... Th ere are many planters who put the gain at fi fty, seventyfi ve, and even one hundred per cent.” Not four hundred percent, he’s trying to sell it— and he hedges even further: “I do not promise that much.” Turner, Th e Cotton Planter’s Manual (New York: O. Judd and Co., 1865), 105.

35. Historians have studied the language of “improving” and “scientifi c” planters as an anxious rhe toric of modernity and control. In this discourse, planters credited themselves with experiments and decisions about techniques of cultivation, as well as the bio-engineering of plants, while completely obscuring the real ity that forced labor performed the work. Th e columns of agricultural improvement journals hide the fact that in real life, enslavers were measur ing not the output of seeds but the output of enslaved human beings laboring under threat of vio lence. Johnson, River of Dark Dreams, is particularly perceptive on this point, but see also Chaplin, An Anxious Pursuit; and Drew Gilpin Faust, “Th e Rhe toric and Ritual of Agricultural Reform in Antebellum South Carolina,” Journal of Southern History 45, no. 3 (1979): 541–68. In their uncritical reproduction of planters’ claims, Olmstead and Rhode, in the essay cited here and in succeeding articles, paint a picture of planters as continually and consciously adapting and innovating the cotton seeds. Th eir story swallows planter rhe toric, and also reproduces the general story- line of books and articles written by traditionalist agricultural historians who wanted to fi nd the sources of agricultural pro gress for the rest of the United States in improved seeds, methods of fertilizing, and machinery— exactly the kinds of things that the state universities that sponsored them promised legislatures they were creating in their departments of agriculture and agronomy.

36. For instance, the economists compare the picking rates in the new cotton districts, which grew and harvested short- staple cotton (the kind used by most textile mills), with the picking rates of a handful of Sea Island cotton plantations in the Carolina Lowcountry. Th e picking rates in the fi rst group rose over time, while the latter stayed fl at. Th ey assume the same or ga ni za tion of labor in both sites, and thus attribute the increase to a diff erence in 313 of the Black Radical Tradition, 2nd ed. (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000), and Robin D. G. Kelley, Freedom Dreams: Th e Black Radical Imagination (Boston: Beacon Press, 2002).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven, and Seth Rockman, eds. *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds., *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 42–43.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Slavery's Capitalism*, 42–43.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.10

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	ntroduction: Boom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 11–12 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

English observer put it, describing the commercial symbiosis of slavery and industry, “Manchester is no less needful to New Orleans than New Orleans is to Manchester.”[22]

Much of the history of the political economy of slavery in the Mississippi Valley was framed by the tension between “the South” as a region of the global economy and “the South” as a region of the United States of America—by the tension between the promiscuity of capital and the limits prescribed by the territorial sovereignty of the United States. As Adam Smith wrote, merchant capital was by nature mobile: it “seems to have no fixed residence anywhere, but may wander from place to place, according as it may either buy cheap or sell dear.”[23] Rather than inhabiting space, merchant capital made it, fabricating connections and annihilating distances according to rates of interest and freight, the “laws” of supply and demand. The laws of the United States, however, sought to channel and limit the accumulation of capital in ways that many in the Mississippi Valley increasingly came to believe divested them of their birthright—as slaveholders, as Americans, as whites, as men.

To imagine and represent the global span of this economy, pro-slavery po litical economists (especially after the Depression of 1837) seized upon another metric: the fact that “the South” provided two-thirds of the nation’s exports, but consumed only one-tenth of its imports. Rather than as a measure of the degraded condition of Southern slaves—Southern demand for goods was low, it could be argued, because slaveholders continually pushed downward upon the subsistence levels of their slaves (which is to say one-half of the population of the states of Mississippi and Louisiana)—or even of the comparative underdevelopment of Southern manufacturing, the defenders of slavery interpreted this imbalance as evidence of the degraded condition of slaveholders. Two issues were of particular (not to say obsessive) concern. The first was slaveholders’ vulnerability to tariffs, which, defenders of slavery argued, transformed Southern agricultural wealth into a subsidy to Northern manufacturers. Second were unscrupulous financiers and merchants, who sold slaveholders’ cotton short and siphoned their profits. Increasingly, pro-slavery political economists looked to free trade—to a relation with the global economy unmediated by the territorial sovereignty of the United States—as the solution to Southern economic disadvantage.

All of this leaves us with two sets of questions. First, how did the global 12 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll reach of the cotton economy—in which millions of pounds of cotton and billions of dollars were annually traded, in which credit chased cotton from the metropolitan banks of Europe to every plantation outpost of the Mississippi Valley and then back again, in which the rate of exploitation of slaves in a field in Mississippi, measured in pounds per day, was keyed to the standards of the Exchange in Liverpool and the labor of the mill-hands in Manchester—how did this global economic formation result in one of the most powerfully sectionalist accounts of political economy in the nineteenth century: the Confederate States of America? And second, perhaps even more perplexing, how did this regionalist account of political economy come to seek its resolution in globalism? How did those who saw merchants as bloodsuckers and interlopers come to see more trade rather than less as the solution to their problems?

How did Valley cotton planters who were daily exposed to the risks of transactions that occurred thousands of miles away, whose year’s “work” would be consumed in a matter of minutes due to a decision made in an unknown warehouse by an unknown merchant (covering his own unknown obligations), come to seek an even more direct exposure to the global economy? How did the defenders of the Mississippi Valley’s Cotton Kingdom become free traders□ —and then imperialists? It is easy to see in retrospect that overinvestment in slaves, overproduction of

cotton, and overreliance on credit made Valley planters vulnerable to precisely the sort of crisis they experienced during the Depression of 1837. Cotton planting was extraordinarily capital intensive, and most of planters' money was tied up in land and slaves. For the money they needed to get through the year—for liquidity—they relied on credit. And to get credit, they had to plant cotton. Their situation—the fact that they were "overaccumulated" in a single sector of the economy—was expressed in the antebellum commonplace repeated to the Northern traveler Edward Russell as he made his way up the Red River in 1854.

Planters, a man told Russell, "care for nothing but to buy Negroes to plant cotton & raise cotton to buy Negroes."[24]

Author's Notes

22. James Stirling, Letters from the Slave States (London: John W. Parker and Son, 1857),

23. Adam Smith, An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations (London, 1776), bk. 2, ch. 5, para. 14.

24. Edward Russell, Journal, January 31 and February 4, 1854, Historic New Orleans Collection, New Orleans, LA. See, generally, Eugene Genovese, The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South (New York: Vintage, 1965).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013), 11–12.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 11–12.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.11

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	NTR ODUCTION: A PER S ON WITH A PR ICE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 15–16 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

This history, then, is not organized around "change over time" in the traditional sense. It does not begin at one time (say 1820) and progress toward another (say 1860), providing an overview of the history of the slave trade in between. Still less does it offer a theory or a formal definition of the institution of slavery. Instead, it begins with the efforts of various historical actors-traders, buyers, or slaves-to imagine, assimilate, respond to, or resist the slave trade, with the desires and fears that gave the trade its daily shape. The scope and scale of the chapters shifts according to the efforts of the participants to understand and control the history in which they were joined. In some of the chapters the slaves have names and stories, in some they are slaveholders' fanta sies, stripped bodies, or recorded prices. In some the traders have motives and strategies, in some they are ghosts stalking the daily life of the slave community or scapegoats for proslavery southerners' anxieties about the human selling and family separating that pervaded their "domestic" institution. In some the buyers imagine the slave market as a vehicle of self-amplification, a place where they could remake them selves in the image of the slaves they bought; in others they strip, question, and discipline the enslaved people through whom their imag ined identities became material.

Maintaining these separate perspectives on the trade throughout the book, especially in accounts of the relentless objectification to which slaves in the market were subjected, can make tough reading. But it was out of the clash of conflicting perspectives that the history of the slave trade was daily made. As they went to the slave market, for example, potential buyers might have been self-consciously playing a part in the historical project of making manifest the expansionary destiny of the antebellum regime, or they might have made their slave-market choices with an eye toward crop calendars and cycles of commercial specula tion, or they might have simply imagined their presence in the market as part of their own biography-the stages of a slaveholding life cycle marked out in'purchased slaves. Slaves, on the other hand, might have framed the trade in terms of the sinfulness of slaveholders and their own providential hopes for salvation through suffering, or they might have seen their own sale as part of the larger demographic transformation of the slave communities of both the upper and lower South, or they might have imagined the trade in personal terms-the waiting to be sold which suffused every moment of the present with the fear of an unknown future, the heart-rending pain of losing loved ones to the traders, loss and survival in the shadow of the slave market. These various ways of imagining history-providential, political, economic, communal, biographical, and so on-were layered and intertwined through the daily process of the slave trade. 34 Many slaves trades, many versions of what was happening, met and were contested in every slave sale.

This book begins along the separate paths taken by slaveholders and slaves to the showrooms and leads up to the moment of sale in the market. The early chapters explore the radically incommensurable views taken by slaves and slaveholders of the relation of the slave trade to the broader system of slavery and follow this philosophical difference through the practical contests that defined the history of the slave trade: the efforts of slaveholders to coax or coerce their resistant slaves jnto the trade, the strategies the traders used to get their slaves to market, the slaves' efforts to make common cause with their fellow slaves and to resist the traders. The subsequent chapters of the book treat the contested bargains made by traders, buyers, and slaves in the show rooms and auction houses. In the slave market, the central tension of antebellum slavery was daily played out as slaveholders invested their money and their hopes in people whom they could never fully com modify. Even as the traders packaged their slaves by "feeding them up," oiling their bodies, and dressing them in new clothes, they were forced to rely on the slaves to sell themselves, to act

as they had been adver tised to be. Likewise, even as slave buyers stripped the slaves naked, probed their bodies, and asked them questions, they depended on the slaves to give them answers that would help them look beyond the traders☐ arts. The stakes were high, for their identities as masters and mistresses, planters and paternalists, hosts and hostesses, slave breakers and sexual predators were all lived through the bodies of people who could be bought and sold in the market. And so the questions the buyers asked and the examinations they made were also answers, accounts of their own origins and intentions.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Harvard University Press, 1999), 15–16.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *Soul by Soul*, 15–16.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.12

Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese

SELECTION	Southern Women, Southern Households
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 55–56 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Excerpt

The South had a slave system within a capitalist mode of production. Or, more simply put, the South was in but not of the bourgeois world. The tentacles of capitalism permeated southern society, but bourgeois social relations did not reign and did not dominate southern thought and feeling. Antebellum slave society can, as Eugene Genovese and I have argued at some length, most instructively be viewed as a discrete social formation that originated in the determination to provide labor for plantation agriculture; it emerged during the expansion of the capitalist world market, but before the triumph of the market in labor-power that would characterize the exponentially accelerating growth of industrial capitalism. In this perspective, its social relations of production developed as "modern" relative to European feudalism, and as "retrogressive" relative to emerging capitalism.[32]

As a distinct slave society, the antebellum South developed its fundamental social, cultural, intellectual, gender, and political relations under the aegis of the slave system. In this respect, the nature of its relation to the progress of transatlantic bourgeois society matters less than its significant deviation from the bourgeois society that was developing in the North and in western Europe on the basis of free labor. The slave South emerged as a brave, if deeply flawed, new world, not as a copy or recreation of the precapitalist European society out of which it, like the North, had grown. Its essential character derived from the masterslave relation—from slavery as a social system—which shaped the culture, intellectual life, and politics of the slaveholders in particular and the society in general. Sections of the Lower South and much of the Upper escaped the direct impact of slavery and even spawned alternate cultures. The South, even the plantation South, was not monolithic. But the basic social relations of slavery dominated the great southern heartland and determined its mind as well as it interests. Slavery as a social system thus engendered a distinctive southern mentalité, with its fateful political consequences.

The plantation South would never have existed, much less expanded, had it not been for the capitalist world market. From its origins in the tobacco economy of the seventeenth-century Chesapeake until the development of the cotton belt of the nineteenth-century Deep South, the plantation system grew apace with the development of and demand for staple crops exchanged in the world market. The dimension of change over time is critical. Expansion of the South entailed the extension of slaveholding into newly opened territories. Yet some of the older areas, although they remained in the slaveholding sphere, remained out of or withdrew from the international staple market in favor of greater communal self-sufficiency. The profitability of slavery is not at issue. Although individual planters might withstand depressions in the market by virtue of credit extended by merchants or kin, the system as a whole required profits to survive and expand. At issue remains the nature of the social formation and the characteristic productive relations that produced the staples. The most telling characteristic of southern political economy may well have been that the decisive social relations of production were contained within the household rather than outside it, for the household constituted the dominant unit of production throughout the antebellum era. Not all southern households were plantations or even farms, not all southern households included slaves, and not all slaveholding southern households followed the same economic strategies, but the slave system and the household reinforced each other to discourage capitalist development.[34]

The Old South, in short, remained dependent on a capitalist world market, the principles of which were not embodied in its dominant labor system. Unlike northern farms, which can be understood as agricultural versions of petty commodity production, southern plantations depended on slavery, which was radically distinct from the

capitalist wage relation. As M. I. Finley has insisted, human societies have manifested a range of partially unfree labor systems that form a continuum with respect to degrees and forms of unfreedom, but slavery constituted a radical break with them all. In the South, slavery's domination of the economy shaped even the development of nonslaveholding farms. Southern households took shape as specific manifestations of the merchant capital that presided over the birth of southern society.

Author's Notes

32. PMC, p. 145 (29 Aug. 1861).

34. MCCW, p. 32 (19 Mar. 1861).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fox-Genovese, Elizabeth. *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Footnote citation:

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South* (University of North Carolina Press, 1988), 55–56.

Shortened citation:

Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household*, 55–56.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.13

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	PART I OF THE WILLING AND THE OBEDIENT
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

The Old South, black and white, created a historically unique kind of paternalist society. To insist upon the centrality of class relations as manifested in paternalism is not to slight the inherent racism or to deny the intolerable contradictions at the heart of paternalism itself. Imamu Amiri Baraka captures the tragic irony of paternalist social relations when he writes that slavery "was, most of all, a paternal institution" and yet refers to "the filthy paternalism and cruelty of slavery."' Southern paternalism, like every other paternalism, had little to do with Ole Massa's ostensible benevolence, kindness, and good cheer. It grew out of the necessity to discipline and morally justify a system of exploitation. It did encourage kindness and affection, but it simultaneously encouraged cruelty and hatred. The racial distinction between master and slave heightened the tension inherent in an unjust social order.

Southern slave society grew out of the same general historical conditions that produced the other slave regimes of the modern world. The rise of a world market—the development of new tastes and of manufactures dependent upon non-European sources of raw materials—encouraged the rationalization of colonial agriculture under the ferocious domination of a few Europeans. African labor provided the human power to fuel the new system of production in all the New World slave societies, which, however, had roots in different European experiences and emerged in different geographical, economic, and cultural conditions. They had much in common, but each was unique.'

Theoretically, modern slavery rested, as had ancient slavery, on the idea of a slave as instrumentum vocale—a chattel, a possession, a thing, a mere extension of his master's will. But the vacuousness of such pretensions had been exposed long before the growth of New World slave societies.? The closing of the ancient slave trade, the political crisis of ancient civilization, and the subtle moral pressure of an ascendant Christianity had converged in the early centuries of the new era to shape a seigneurial world in which lords and serfs (not slaves) faced each other with reciprocal demands and expectations. This land-oriented world of medieval Europe slowly forged the traditional paternalist ideology to which the southern slaveholders fell heir.

The slaveholders of the South, unlike those of the Caribbean, increasingly resided on their plantations and by the end of the eighteenth century had become an entrenched regional ruling class. The paternalism encouraged by the close living of masters and slaves was enormously reinforced by the closing of the African slave trade, which compelled masters to pay greater attention to the reproduction of their labor force. Of all the slave societies in the New World, that of the Old South alone maintained a slave force that reproduced itself. Less than 400,000 imported Africans had, by 1860, become an American black population of more than 4,000,000.* A paternalism accepted by both masters and slaves—but with radically different interpretations—afforded a fragile bridge across the intolerable contradictions inherent in a society based on racism, slavery, and class exploitation that had to depend on the willing reproduction and productivity of its victims. For the slaveholders paternalism represented an attempt to overcome the fundamental contradiction in slavery: the impossibility of the slaves' ever becoming the things they were supposed to be. Paternalism defined the involuntary labor of the slaves as a legitimate return to their masters for protection and direction. But, the masters' need to see their slaves as acquiescent human beings constituted a moral victory for the slaves themselves. Paternalism's insistence upon mutual obligations—duties, responsibilities, and ultimately even rights—implicitly recognized the slaves' humanity.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (Pantheon Books, 1974), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.14

The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Excerpt

These studies fall under the rubric of "the political economy of slavery," not "the economics of slavery," because they are concerned less with economics or even economic history as generally understood than with the economic aspect of a society in crisis. They argue that slavery gave the South a social system and a civilization with a distinct class structure, political community, economy, ideology, and set of psychological patterns and that, as a result, the South increasingly grew away from the rest of the nation and from the rapidly developing sections of the world. That this civilization had difficulty in surviving during the nineteenth century—a bourgeois century if any deserves the name—raises only minor problems. The difficulty, from this point of view, was neither economic, nor political, nor moral, nor ideological; it was all of these, which constituted manifestations of a fundamental antagonism between modern and premodern worlds. The premodern quality of the Southern world was imparted to it by its dominant slaveholding class. Slavery has existed in many places, side by side with other labor systems, without producing anything like the civilization of the South. Slavery gave the South a special way of life because it provided the basis for a regional social order in which the slave labor system could dominate all others. Southern slavery was not "mere slavery'—to recall Louis Hartz's luckless term—but the foundation on which rose a powerful and remarkable social class: a class constituting only a tiny portion of the white population and yet so powerful and remarkable as to try, with more success than our neo-abolitionists care to see, to build a new, or rather to rebuild an old, civilization.

The first of these studies, ""The Slave South: An Interpretation," sketches the main features of antebellum Southern civilization, which it describes as having been moving steadily into a general crisis of society as a whole and especially of its dominant slaveholding class. The slaveholders' economic and political interests, as well as ideological and psychological commitments, clashed at many points with those of Northern and European capitalists, farmers, and laborers. The successful defense of slavery presupposed an adequate rate of material growth, but the South could not keep pace with an increasingly hostile North in population growth, manufacturing, transportation, or even agricultural development. The weaknesses of Southern agriculture were especially dangerous and galling to the regime— dangerous because without adequate agricultural progress other kinds of material progress were difficult to effect; galling because Southerners prided themselves on their rural society and its alleged virtues.

Part Two examines the agricultural base of the Southern economy and especially labor productivity, soil exhaustion, the quantity and quality of livestock, crop diversification, and the movement for agricultural reform. These studies attempt to demonstrate that the efforts of Southerners to develop a sound agricultural economy within the slave system were yielding meager results and had little hope of success as measured by the general and political needs of the slaveholders.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South*. 2nd ed. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (Wesleyan University Press, 1989), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.15

The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 7–8 · Supplied edition: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Introduction 7 especially the destruction of the old social ties between rulers and ruled. Hence, while turning away from the Middle Ages and identifying themselves with modernity, they made two related claims for the South as the legitimate heir to the healthy and constructive elements in medieval life.' First, the South remained a Christian society, properly reformed in the Protestant sense, and stood as a bastion against the infidelity and heresies of the bourgeois perversion of modernity, which had badly flawed the Enlightenment and brought forth the horrors of the French Revolution, the Terror, political radicalism, and growing social disorder. Second, the South, with its masters and slaves, boasted organic social relations adjusted to a dynamic and progressive modern world. The South, virtually alone, stood for progress and modernity without the terrible evils that plagued the bourgeois societies. It was erecting not some refurbished medievalism, with the social stagnation it implied, but a modern and progressive slave society that rested upon time-honored social and spiritual foundations. Thus southern theorists generally agreed that the progress of some required the progress of all, but they assumed that genuine progress would have to proceed within a stratified order that dispensed rewards unequally.

The contradictions in the slaveholders' interpretation of history and indeed in their self-image seem apparent now but were rarely noticed then. Even their northern adversaries, who might have pummeled them badly on these matters, usually forfeited the chance by settling for charges of hypocrisy and irrationality, when they bothered to notice at all. The economic freedom that feudalism had stifled and that propelled the extraordinary progress of the modern age could hardly be separated historically or analytically from the extension of freedom to the laboring classes — to that emancipation of the serfs the southerners harshly criticized. The southern intellectuals knew that the extension of freedom and the demise of personal servitude held the secret of the progress and modernity they claimed to represent. They invoked the racial argument: Europeans constituted a superior race 8 The Slaveholders' Dilemma fit for freedom after a suitable period of Christian tutelage. But, unable to sustain their larger argument on racial grounds, they repeatedly returned to the emancipation of the serfs as the primary cause of the social crisis that threatened to wreck the modern world and plunge it back toward barbarism.

The slaveholders never came to terms with the ambiguity of their interpretation of the Middle Ages or with the ambivalence toward historical progress that it exposed. They tried. But the ambiguity and ambivalence arose again and again in their critique of the modern bourgeois societies and in their defense of slavery. They earnestly sought to champion a modernity purged of distortions and heresy and to present themselves as the carriers of a well-ordered progress in human affairs. In this respect they shared much with transatlantic conservatives of many types. But in bravely meeting the challenge to assess the role of freedom in history, they struck out on a path of their own. At the end of that path they encountered an unforeseen dilemma and a Hobson's choice between grim political alternatives.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860*. Columbia: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860* (University of South Carolina Press, 1992), 7–8.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.16

The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	THE SETTING
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 24–25 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Excerpt

hands of a slaveholding class hostile to industrialism. The slaveholders feared a strong urban bourgeoisie, which might make common cause with its Northern counterpart. They feared a white urban working class of unpredictable social tendencies. In general, they distrusted the city and saw in it something incongruous with their local power and status arrangements.'* The small slaveholders, as well as the planters, resisted the assumption of a heavy tax burden to assist manufacturers, and as the South fell further behind the North in industrial development more state aid was required to help industry offset the Northern advantages of scale, efficiency, credit relations, and business reputation. Slavery led to the rapid concentration of land and wealth and prevented the expansion of a Southern home market. Instead of providing a basis for industrial growth, the Southern countryside, economically dominated by a few large estates, provided only a limited market for industry. Data on the cotton textile factories almost always reveal that Southern producers aimed at supplying slaves with the cheapest and coarsest kind of cotton goods.

Even so, local industry had to compete with Northern firms, which sometimes shipped direct and sometimes established Southern branches. William Gregg, the South's foremost industrialist, understood the modest proportions of the Southern market and warned manufacturers against trying to produce exclusively for their local areas. His own company at Graniteville, South Carolina, produced fine cotton goods that sold much. better in the North than in the South. Gregg was an unusually able man, and his success in selling to the North was a personal triumph. When he had to evaluate the general position of Southern manufacturers, he asserted that he was willing to stake his reputation on their ability to compete with Northerners in the production of "coarse cotton fabrics."' Some Southern businessmen, especially those in the border states, did good business in the North. Louisville tobacco and hemp manufacturers sold much of their output in Ohio. Some producers of iron and agricultural implements sold in nearby Northern cities. This kind of market was precarious.

As Northern competitors rose and the market shrank, Southern producers had to rely on the narrow and undependable Southern market.'® Well before 1840 iron-manufacturing establishments in the Northwest provided local farmers with excellent markets for grain, vegetables, molasses, and work animals. During the antebellum period and after, the grain growers of America found their market at home. America's rapid industrial development offered farmers a magnificently expanding urban market, and not until much later did they come to depend to any important extent on exports. To a small degree the South benefited in this way. By 1840 the tobacco-manufacturing industry began to absorb more tobacco than was being exported, and the South's few industrial centers provided markets for local grain and vegetable growers. Since the South could not undertake a general industrialization, few urban centers rose to provide substantial markets for farmers and planters.

Southern grain growers, except for those close to the cities of the free states, had to be content with the market offered by planters who preferred to specialize in cotton or sugar and buy foodstuffs, The restricted rations of the slaves limited this market, which inadequate transportation further narrowed. It did not pay the planters to appropriate state funds to build a transportation system into the back country, and any measure to increase the economic strength of the back-country farmers seemed politically dangerous to the aristocracy of the Black Belt. The farmers of the back country remained isolated, self-sufficient, and politically, economically, and socially backward. Those grain-growing farmers who could compete with producers in the Upper South and the Northwest for the plantation

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South*. 2nd ed. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (Wesleyan University Press, 1989), 24–25.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery*, 24–25.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.17

A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy

Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss

SELECTION	A Deplorable Scarcity
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 160–161 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1981.

Excerpt

a handicap for southern producers. Estimates of scale parameters in manufacturing production functions reveal little or no advantage to firms larger than those typical of the southern economy. In no region were firms producing in the range of increasing returns to scale in 1850, while in 1860 constant returns characterized production in the South and West. Southern manufacturers had apparently taken advantage of whatever scale economies existed and had attained sizes sufficient to permit production that, ceteris paribus, would have been competitive with firms outside the region. Nor would labor and capital resource availability have hindered additional industrial growth. Much has been written about the incapabilities of enslaved labor, the effect slavery had on the immigration of workers, and the low quality of the native white labor force. Capital formation has been seen as a problem resulting from the peculiarly undeveloped nature of the southern capital market, the low saving rate of the planters who consumed conspicuously, or the capital absorption effects of the slave labor system. These claims appear to have been exaggerated. Some slaves did work in manufacturing establishments and many more were capable of it.

Not generally deterred from engaging in industrial jobs, poor whites often proved to be suitable mill or factory workers. There may have been less immigration to the South than elsewhere, but given the existence of the large slave labor supply, the region incurred no disadvantage. Indeed, the advantage that could accrue to a region possessing a larger body of unskilled labor lay with the South. The arguments about capital have been equally misleading. Slave labor did not retard nonagricultural investment by tying up capital. In fact the contrary is equally likely—that the ownership of slaves generated a higher saving and investment rate. Not a drain on investment, the purchase of slaves involved a transfer of ownership and had at best a minor impact on the quantity of savings available for industrial capital accumulation. Furthermore, if income distribution in the South were more unequal than elsewhere, the saving rate could have been higher than in other locations, placing southern manufacturing in a relatively advantageous position. Why then did the South fail to grasp these opportunities?

The answer appears to lie with the planter class, specifically in its members' entrepreneurial attitudes and decisions, especially their behavior toward risk. Potentially a great source for investible funds, the planters failed to respond adequately to the higher returns available in manufacturing. To some extent they were not unique, for manufacturing investments, being risky, would have required higher yields to attract funds. But even after risk is taken into account, the manufacturing returns should have been judged superior by shrewd investors. More industrial investment was justified. Given the possibility of combining manufacturing investments with some riskless assets, more individuals should have chosen southern manufacturing over agriculture. That they did not suggests that southern investors were exceptionally averse to risk, were not knowledgeable about the benefits of diversification, failed to alter their expectations in the light of accumulating evidence on the greater profitability of manufacturing, or attached unagreeably high social costs to industrial diversification. The argument based on social costs centers on the presumed incompatibility of industrialism and slavery.

Although many of those fears seem exaggerated, their impact may have been sufficiently real to have discouraged some planters from investing in manufacturing enterprises. This explanation has a long tradition in the historical literature, best summarized as the planters' desire to preserve their hegemony and their way of life. Consequently, antebellum southern literature contained a continuing debate between industrialists who urged greater diversification because it was profitable, and slaveholders who warned of the dangers from increased industrialization. The planters could not be certain of these dangers, but "a miscalculation of the effects of raising a

class of urban factory slaves or white proletarians could prove fatal to the Southern social system" (Genovese, 1965, p. 221). Their fears were fueled periodically by actual or threatened slave rebellions, and occasionally by white worker militancy or unionism. In Genovese's view it was "only a short step from specific complaints about {labor} practices to more general demands for social and political reform" (1965, p. 233). But that final step was never taken. How much more manufacturing the system could have accommodated before such disaster materialized remains unknown.

Those additional affronts to the planters' world never occurred, but not because such assaults were illegal. Although the planter-dominated legislatures did not consistently foster manufacturing, except in rare instances, neither did they prohibit it. Legal barriers were not erected, in part because the planters desired some industry, but mainly because such legislation was unnecessary. If a broadly based industrialism had threatened planter hegemony more seriously, the legislatures might have reacted, but in fact antebellum

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bateman, Fred, and Thomas Weiss. *A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss, *A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy* (University of North Carolina Press, 1981), 160–161.

Shortened citation:

Weiss, *A Deplorable Scarcity*, 160–161.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.18

A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War

John Majewski

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 1–2 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

Regional Development in Comparative Perspective

In 1858, Abraham Lincoln proclaimed that America was a “house divided.” The political agitation over the extension of slavery into the western territories had convinced Lincoln that America was at a cross¬ roads. “Either the opponents of slavery, will arrest the further spread of it, and place it where the public mind shall rest in the belief that it is in course of ultimate extinction; or its advocates will push it forward, till it shall become alike lawful in all the States, old as well as new - North as well as South.”

The latter possibility terrified many Northerners, and not only because of the growing conviction that slavery corrupted republican politics and undermined Christian morals.^Many believed that the institution had stripped the South of entrepreneurial vigor and enter¬ prise, leaving in its wake unprofitable plantations, stunted cities, and widespread poverty. When New York politician William Seward visited Virginia, he found nothing but “[a]n exhausted soil, old and decaying towns, wretchedly-neglected roads, and, in every respect, an absence of enterprise and improvement.” Seward and other Republican spokesmen contrasted the degradation of the slave South with the well-kept farms, growing cities, and technological advances of the free-labor North* Northern pessimism about the South’s economic prospects was so widespread that historian John Ashworth has argued that “the Republicans fought the Civil War primarily because they deplored the economic effects of slavery.” Ashworth may overstate the point, hut the rapid economic divergence of the North and South undoubtedly provided fertile ground for the ominous predictions and stark dichotomies outlined in Lincoln’s “house divided” speech.

We now know that Republicans greatly exaggerated the degree of southern stagnation. Economic historians have conclusively shown ^that the South was remarkably prosperous on the eve of the Civil War.

Southern incomes - at least those for whites - rose rapidly between

1840 and 1860. High crop prices for southern staples such as cotton and tobacco accounted for much of this prosperity, but white south¬ erners were hardly passive recipients of good fortune. They built thousands of miles of railroad tracks, improved the productivity of farms and plantations, and established a small but growing industrial base. By international standards, at least, the South was an economic powerhouse.

International comparisons, however, mattered little during the sec¬ tional controversies of the 1840s and the 1850s. Even a brief perusal of the 1850 or 1860 census suggested that the Republican economic critique rang true. *The South had fallen dramatically behind the North (especially the Northeast) in manufacturing output, popula¬ tion growth, urbanization rates, inventive activity, and almost every other measure of development. Slaveholders living in older southern states such as Virginia and South Carolina had special reason to be concerned with the growing developmental divide^-The failure of their states to industrialize created a pattern in which the oldest south¬ ern states were among the poorest in the nation, while the oldest northern states were among the richest." As the historian Joseph Persky has observed, Southerners perceived themselves as carrying “the burden of dependency” which left them vulnerable to the North’s growing economic and political power. No wonder many slavehold¬ ers believed that territorial expansion was critical to maintaining their regional independence and peculiar institution. Unable to augment their political influence through development, Southerners had to expand through space.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Majewski, John. *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Footnote citation:

John Majewski, *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War* (Cambridge University Press, 2000), 1–2.

Shortened citation:

Majewski, *A House Dividing*, 1–2.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.19

Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South

Keri Leigh Merritt

SELECTION	ntroduction: The Second Degree of Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Excerpt

Indeed, poor white Southerners not only possessed class consciousness, but as the antebellum period wore on, they became overtly resentful of slaveholders. With their labor rendered almost unnecessary, some poor whites chose to drop out of society altogether, living off the land and often running afoul of the law. Others struggled to make ends meet with occasional odd jobs and seasonal agricultural work. Yet the nature of this type of labor kept many poor white men on the move in search of jobs, fracturing households and leaving many families headed by women, at least for portions of the year. Although they never experienced the brutality and abuse that African Americans did, poor whites still suffered obvious hardships – all because of slavery.

Unfortunately, poor whites made particularly inviting targets for a southern legal system dominated by slaveholders, who generally incarcerated them for behavioral, nonviolent "crimes" such as trading, drinking, and other social interactions with slaves and free blacks. On the eve of secession, slaveholders were still jailing poor whites for small amounts of debt, publicly whipping thieves, and auctioning off debtors and criminals (for their labor) to the highest bidder. In addition to the region's sophisticated legal system, the Old South also had an extremely effective extralegal system to keep the lower-class whites in their places. From vigilance committees to minutemen groups, these organizations helped maintain both slavery and the southern social hierarchy, and ultimately forced a divided region to wage an unwanted war.

Class tensions between white Southerners in the Deep South, therefore, ultimately added to the causes of the Civil War. Angered by their lack of job prospects, poor white laborers – whose ranks were rapidly increasing in southern cities due to immigration – were becoming more and more militant in the decades leading up to secession. They began forming "associations," or labor unions, and demanded freedom from competition with slaves and even free blacks, whose wages always undercut their own. Vocal leaders of these groups threatened to stop supporting slavery if something was not done to help raise their wages. The master class was already strenuously defending the peculiar institution from attacks by northern abolitionists and by slaves themselves. When poor whites created a three-front battleground, slaveholders had few viable alternatives other than secession to protect their main source of wealth and revenue.

Attempting to frighten poor whites into supporting disunion, slaveholders predicted an impending race war following emancipation. Warning that freeing the slaves would drive down the wages of poor whites to "starvation levels," slave owners then prophesied that black men would marry the daughters of the white poor. Without slavery, masters cautioned, poor whites would become impoverished peons, the social equals of blacks. Still, despite slaveholders' racist rhetoric, many poor whites objected to the Confederate cause, but slave owners used threats of imprisonment, vigilante violence, and even death to impress the poor into service. During the Civil War, the extremely high rate of layouts and desertions among lower-class whites eventually helped lead to the Confederacy's demise.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Merritt, Keri Leigh. *Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Footnote citation:

Keri Leigh Merritt, *Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South* (Cambridge University Press, 2017), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Merritt, *Masterless Men*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.20

Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds.

SELECTION	hapter 14: Why Did Northerners Oppose the Expansion of Slavery?
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 278–279 · Supplied edition: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

What makes the Republican position especially problematic is that slavery seemed to benefi t the northern economy. Slavery, historians now argue, stood at the center of the world's cap i tal ist economy. As many of the chapters in this volume make clear, northern industry, northern fi nance, and northern commerce benefi ted from slave labor. Southern slaveholders celebrated their central importance to the world economy, and they confi dently believed that northerners would never endanger access to cotton and the lucrative southern markets. Why would Yankees, they asked, make war against slavery and kill the goose that laid the golden eggs? Historians are left with the same paradox that southerners could not explain: the northern economy benefi ted from the profi ts of slave labor, yet the majority of northerners willingly risked civil war to halt slavery's westward expansion. Capitalism, it seems, went to war against itself.

To explain this paradox, I focus on core strengths of the northern po litical economy that the recent lit er a ture has tended to neglect: the democratization of education and innovation. Northerners created the world's most successful educational system, one that provided widespread access to inexpensive common schools. In the 1849–1850 school year, 63 percent of children in the rural North between the ages of fi ve and nineteen years attended school for at least part of the year, a percentage far higher than in the South and in most Eu ro pean nations.[5] Th e relatively high levels of learning, combined with the expansion of markets through transportation and communication improvements, facilitated the development of networks of inventors and innovators. Patents are one way of mea sur ing the pro gress of northern innovation. Antebellum Americans patented tens of thousands of inventions before the Civil War, and per capita rates were well ahead of those of Great Britain, the nineteenth century's great industrial power. Northerners accounted for nearly 95 percent of the national total; the South, with nearly 33 percent of the nation's population, produced only 5.[1] percent of the nation's patents.[6] Many Republicans believed that slavery, what ever its immediate economic benefi ts in providing cheap commodities for northern industry, was fundamentally hostile to the creative core of the northern economy. Antislavery activists in Louisville, Kentucky, summarized the critique in 1849: "Slavery and education are by their very nature at war with each other."[7]

Th is chapter analyzes one of the most eco nom ically successful regions of the South, a region I call the Limestone South, to show in greater detail the incompatibility of slavery and a northern economy focused on education and innovation. Th e Limestone South consisted of three distinct regions that shared rich limestone soils: Virginia's Shenandoah Valley, Kentucky's Bluegrass Region, and Tennessee's Nashville Basin. Taken as a whole, the Limestone South contained just over 22,000 square miles (approximately the size of current- day West Virginia) and just over one million residents, including 275,000 slaves. In many re spects, the Limestone South confi rms the current lit er a ture's emphasis on the fl exible, modern nature of antebellum slavery. Th e region's fertile soils and moderate climate supported dense, prosperous agricultural populations with their accompanying commerce, industry, and cities. Nearly 16 percent of the population of the Limestone South lived in a censusdefi ned urban area, which put it signifi cantly ahead of midwestern states such as Indiana and Illinois. Manufacturing output in the Limestone South was also comparable to that of midwestern states. In contrast to the predictions of free- labor ideology, the history of the Limestone South suggests that slavery, in the right environmental conditions, could indeed support a thriving, diversifi ed economy.

Author's Notes

1. John Ashworth, Slavery, Capitalism, and Politics in the Antebellum Republic, vol. 1, Commerce and Compromise, 1820–1850 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995), 80.

3. Jonathan Daniel Wells, "Th e Southern Middle Class," Journal of Southern History 75 (August 2009): 75.

4. L. Diane Barnes, Brian Schoen, and Frank Towers, "Introduction," in Th e Old South's Modern Worlds: Slavery, Region, and Nation in the Age of Pro gress (New York: Oxford University Press, 2011), 14.

5. Sun Go and Peter Lindert, "Th e Uneven Rise of American Public Schools in 1850," Journal of American History 70 (March 2010): 4. See also Claudia Goldin and Lawrence F. Katz, Th e Race Between Education and Technology (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2008), 129–62; and see Michelle Connolly, " Human Capital and Growth in the Postbellum South: A Separate But Unequal Story," Journal of Economic History 64 (June 2004): 363–99.

6. Zorina B. Khan, Th e Demo cratization of Invention: Patents and Copyrights in American Economic Development, 1790–1920 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2005), 189. Khan argues that "Th e South, the least demo cratic region in the United States, might paradoxically provide the strongest evidence for the favorable eff ects of individual liberty and opportunity for incentives for contributions at the technological frontier in the nineteenth century" (125).

7. Address to the Non- Slaveholders of Kentucky (Louisville, Ky., 1849), 6.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven, and Seth Rockman, eds. *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds., *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development* (University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 278–279.

Shortened citation:

eds., *Slavery's Capitalism*, 278–279.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.21

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 404–405 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

404 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll

South," slaveholders knew that just as the "Negro fever" had intensified class stratification among Southern whites, it had exacerbated the divergence in the fortunes and interests of the regions of "the South." High boomtime prices in the Mississippi Valley vastly outstripped the returns that Virginia and other Upper-South slaveholders could expect to get from agriculture during most of the antebellum period, and tens of thousands of slaves a year were being sold through the internal trade every year. "The South," that is to say, was increasingly seen as being composed of two interlocked economies: a Deep-South economy that imported slaves and produced a staple crop, and an Upper-South economy that produced and exported slaves—the two being joined together by the internal trade. As with any market-structured transaction, there was a double-faced character to the political economy of the slave trade. On the one hand, it knit the divergent economies of the Upper and Lower South into a system of mutual dependence; on the other, it counterpoised them as adversaries in a competition over the price of slaves. The very trade that made it possible to speak of "a political economy of slavery" that stretched from Maryland and Virginia to Mississippi and Louisiana had, concealed within it, a mechanism of economic differentiation that pitted the interests of the sections against one another, once the question of the African trade had been raised. "For several years the State Revenue of the country has been paid by the sale of her slaves," wrote one central Virginia editor. "Open the Slave Trade and what will our Negroes be worth?"[19] Thus it was that Henry Pryor—asserting a vision of interregional solidarity based on a shared mode of production, and uncomplicated by the complexities of the differential effects of the thriving slave market at the center of the South—labeled the reopening of the slave trade "divisive" to the interests of the region.[20]

From the perspective of slaveholders in the Deep South, the question of comparative disadvantage in the slave market posed a still more troubling problem: the fear that their own seemingly insatiable dependence on Upper-South slaves to sate the endless cycle of consumption and production—a cycle represented by the commonplace that their only goal in life was to "buy Negroes to raise cotton and raise cotton to buy Negroes"—was attenuating the hold of slavery in the Upper South. In a way, the role played by the slave trade in Southern pro-slavery political economy came full circle in the era of the "Negro Fever." The Jeffersonian idea that the internal trade would spread The Ignominious Effort to Reopen the Slave Trade 405 lllllllllllllllllllllll slaves so widely across the landscape as to make their emancipation possible (as ludicrous as it had seemed in the 1820s and 1830s, when the slave trade was producing fear of rebellion in the Lower South) reemerged in the work of pro-slavery writers as the major challenge facing the political economy of slavery: the fear that the Upper South was being drained of slaves. The aggregate demand of Mississippi Valley cotton planters, according to the reckoning of Virginian Edmund Ruffin, was vastly greater than the rate of natural increase of Virginia slaves. Any expansionary vision—any visionary expansion—of the domain of slavery toward the west (Texas, Arkansas, Kansas) or south (Mexico, Guatemala, Nicaragua) might have the paradoxical result of allowing a corresponding advance of free labor into the South.[21]

Author's Notes

19. Lexington Valley Star, September 13, 1860, quoted in Takaki, A Pro-slavery Crusade, 119.

20. "Late Southern Convention at Montgomery," 589.

21. Edmund Ruffin, "The Effects of the High Prices of Slaves," DeBow's Review 26:6 (June 1858), 650. See also "Editorial Miscellany," DeBow's Review 26:4 (April 1859), 482; "African Labor Supply Association," DeBow's Review 27:2 (August 1859), 232, 234.

22. Spratt, "Report on the Slave Trade," 482, 490. The first clause in the original is in the past tense.

23. Deloney, "The South Demands More Negro Labor," 503.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013), 404–405.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 404–405.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.22

Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 315–316 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

Just as the wellborn mulatto, like Faulkner's Charles Bon or Colonel Farr's son, could threaten social order with their white man's pridefulness, the white female who copulated with a black slave posed problems of a similar kind: the encouragement of white pride in a black man and an implied rejection of white men's claims to exclusive sexual possession. The number of white women so inclined was always very small. Women with a consciousness of their social place were scarcely likely to throw themselves into the arms of men not of their class, education, and color. As one eighteenth-century matron recalled, she and other children were "from infancy in habits of familiarity with these humble friends, yet being early taught that nature had placed between them a barrier, which it was in a high degree criminal and disgraceful to pass, they considered a mixture of such distinct races with abhorrence, as a violation of her laws."[37]

Nearly all examples of female intercourse with black men from the antebellum period involved women with defective notions of their social position—hardly surprising in view of the deep horror the violation of this taboo inspired in the community. Sexual attraction, fascination with the exotic, and most of all a sense of gratification in submitting to the dark lover were all involved. One may also be sure that the blacks in question were unusually gifted— and bold—lovers, whom a white man might well envy. No doubt black vengeance through white jealousy was much of the attraction that the black lovers found in these poor-white girls. Some of the slave lovers were conjure-men whose tricks promised the adolescent girls their hearts' desire. Elizabeth Pettus of Fluvanna, Virginia, for instance, was intrigued with a conjure-man named Bob, who seduced her with the threat that he would use magic to break off her match with Dabney Pettus "if she did not conform to his humours." She gave in. Likewise, Lydia Bright of Norfolk in 1803 went to bed with slave Robin because he had promised "that he would conger for to get Benjamin Butt, Jr. to be her husband." In Anson County, North Carolina, Mary Dunn, a serving girl, watched with fascination as a slave named Warwick used a ball of twine and a pan handle to fashion some sort of zodiac in the farmyard dirt. She whispered to a neighbor that what his magic had revealed to her was "so ugly she would not tell." The secret was not hard to guess: he came to her that night.[38]

Placed in close proximity to slaves and themselves enjoying very little standing in the community, girls like Mary Dunn, Elizabeth Pettus, and Lydia Bright heard much about black sexual prowess, but also about their own duty never to touch the forbidden fruit. Even for these adolescents, poor as they were, there was much selfrespect to lose. Yet the temptation was great to see for themselves what it was like to bed with a virile slave. No doubt there was much truth in Edward Long's comment that lower-class women in England were "remarkably fond of the blacks, for reasons too brutal to mention...." Likewise, in the colonial and early Republic eras some American women of wayward disposition made no color distinctions. Needless to say, husbands of such prostitutes or "debauched" girls, as one witness called Mary Dunn, easily won divorces. If their spouses had only white bedmates, however, husbands did not automatically gain freedom.[39]

Judging from women's responses to accusations of unnatural amalgamation, one might safely argue that they were often mentally retarded or else had a very poor self-image. An exception, however, was Betsey Mosley, mother of a black baby. In reply to her outraged husband, she said "that she had not been the first nor would she be the last guilty of such an act and that she saw no more harm in a white woman's having a black child than in a white man's having one, though the latter was more frequent."[40] Usually the woman either felt deep remorse over her indiscretion or

brazenly prostituted herself in defiance of husband and family.

Author's Notes

37. Quotation from Jordan, White over Black, p. 144; see also Smith, Killers of the Dream, p. 17; and Catterall, Judicial Cases, 1: 357, 2: 63-64, 167.

38. Pettus v. Pettus, December 12, 1802, Fluvanna County; Butt v. Butt, December 7, 1803, Norfolk County; Mosley v. Mosley, December 6, 1815, Powhatan County, Leg. Pet., VSI. See also Pruden v. Pruden, December 14, 1840, Nansemond County; Gresham v. Gresham, December 10, 1833, James City County; Rawls v. Rawls, December 14, 1840, Nansemond County; Plum v. Plum, December 9, 1841, Preston County; Rucker \. Rucker, March 5, 1849, Allegheny County, Leg. Pet., VSL. In the last case, however, Mr. Rucker, unlike all the others, did not obtain a divorce, because his wife had given birth to a black child before they were married; hence she was guilty only of fornication (and bastardy), not of adultery. Morgan, American Slavery/American Freedom, pp. 332-36, cites some eccentric examples of intermarriages of white women and black men early in colonial history. See also Johnston, Race Relations, passim.

39. State v. Warwick, March, 1825, State ser. 55, Hutchins Bordon Burton, Governors' Papers, and letterbook, April 13, 1825, 12, GP 55, NCDAH; Long quoted in Jordan, White over Black, p. 239 n46.

40. Mosley v. Mosley, December 6, 1815, Powhatan County, Leg. Pet., VSL.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wyatt-Brown, Bertram. *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 1982), 315–316.

Shortened citation:

Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor*, 315–316.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.23

Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi

Charles C. Bolton

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 105–106 · Supplied edition: Duke University Press, 1994.

Excerpt

Gilliam, Mays, and Kenedy as supplemental labor to his large slave force. As in North Carolina, a forerunner of the crop lien system existed in antebellum Mississippi. The ability of men such as Leak to provide credit services to their tenants and laborers provided the mechanism through which landless whites were recruited to the task of providing additional labor for wealthy cotton producers while reaping few of the benefits generated by the production of the valuable staple. In the process, many poor whites in northeast Mississippi, like those in the central Piedmont of North Carolina, became locked into a cycle of dependency. Generally the only way to break out of such debilitating credit relationships was to move farther west. Many did.

When poor white laborers or tenants became part of the larger work forces of wealthy white slaveholders in northeast Mississippi, the line between black slavery and white freedom blurred. Poor whites and black slaves who picked cotton alongside each other for the benefit of wealthy slaveowners met on a similar ground of dependence and poverty. At these moments, the unspoken power relations of the slave system could become apparent for both poor whites and blacks. Blacks realized that the power of their masters to compel labor could extend to whites as well. Consequently, the argument that slavery was based on black "inferiority" lost some of its power, as did racial arguments that blacks were only fit for labor while whites had been created for "higher" purposes. At the same time, poor whites could see vividly that the enslavement of blacks did not necessarily insure independence for all white citizens.

The potential danger to slavery that a dependent poor white population posed, however, remained more remote in northeast Mississippi than in the central Piedmont of North Carolina. For one thing, the slave owners of northeast Mississippi did not have to contend with the equally troubling status problem posed by a considerable free black population. In 1860, only 773 of Mississippi's 437,404 black residents were free, and most of these free blacks resided in either Natchez, Vicksburg, or Jackson. A mere 37 free blacks lived in the four counties of northeast Mississippi in 1860. In comparison, Randolph County, North Carolina, alone had 432 free black residents during the same yearY

By the I 840S Mississippi law prOvided that free blacks could remain in the state only if they were given speCific permission by the legislature. For example, Layne Gilley of Pontotoc County, a slave freed before the state outlawed the practice, received permission from the state legislature in

1844 to remain in the state after his neighbors provided testimony that he was "a peaceable, industrious and useful member of the community." Free blacks who failed to remain "peaceable" citizens were considered to be in the state illegally and had ten days to leave or face arrest and subsequent enslavement. Consequently, when Billard Filmore, a free mulatto of Itawamba County, was arrested in the 18 50S on a charge of assault with intent to kill a slave, he knew he faced imminent enslavement. Seeking to retain some control over his fate, Filmore petitioned the legislature to make him a slave of James L. Lindsay, the Fulton, MiSSiSSippi, lawyer who served as his defense counse1.Local authorities in MissiSSippi assumed that all unknown blacks who entered their jurisdiction were slaves. Thus, Chickasaw County officials jailed four blacks found there in 1838 as runaway slaves, although the man, woman, and

two children claimed they were free blacks. The family said they had left North Carolina en route to Tennessee but had been inadvertently diverted toward Mississippi.

In North Carolina, the existence of a large free black population stood as a constant reminder, to both enslaved blacks and poor whites alike, that skin color did not necessarily determine the line between slavery and independence. MissiSSippi leaders, faced with a much larger slave population, took early and decisive steps to remove the contradictory presence of free blacks from the state by strictly limiting their numbers. While primarily deSigned to maintain the security of Mississippi's slavery system, these actions to insure a general scarcity of free blacks in Mississippi also virtually eliminated one of the two groups that impliCitly challenged the established boundaries between slavery and freedom in the central Piedmont.

In addition to the general absence offree blacks in northeast MiSSissippi, the region had a much smaller group of permanently resident poor whites. An overwhelming majority of those poor whites who failed to find economic success in northeast Mississippi moved out of the area. A constantly changing population of poor whites did not pose the same contradictions for the meaning of white independence as did a sizable group of perm anently resident poor whites. Many northeast Mississippi whites undoubtedly assumed that the poor whites who passed briefly through their neighborhoods found economic success at their next stop.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bolton, Charles C. *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1994.

Footnote citation:

Charles C. Bolton, *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi* (Duke University Press, 1994), 105–106.

Shortened citation:

Bolton, *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South*, 105–106.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.24

The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914

George M. Fredrickson

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 61–62 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

If Fitzhugh envisioned a seigneurial society based on the image of a patriarchal plantation, the militant racists implicitly or explicitly projected a democratic and egalitarian society for whites, denying that the blacks were, in any real sense at all, part of the human community. They were advocates of what the sociologist Pierre L. van den Berghe has called "Herrenvolk democracy." In his comparative study of racism, van den Berghe has contrasted "Herrenvolk democracies"—"regimes like those of the United States or South Africa that are democratic for the master race but tyrannical for the subordinate groups"—with genuinely aristocratic multiracial societies like those of colonial Latin America.^s The conflict between a developing Herrenvolk ideology and an aristocratic or seigneurial philosophy theoretically incompatible with democracy served to divide the mind of the Old South. To understand this conflict, one must recognize that Southerners could mean two different things when they questioned the applicability of the Declaration of Independence. They could reject the idea of equality in general, like Chancellor Harper and Fitzhugh, or they could reject simply the interpretation of it which included the Negro as a man created equal to the whites. Those who embraced the second option saw themselves as preserving the egalitarian philosophy as a white racial prerogative. This latter view was stated succinctly by the Alabama fireeater William L. Yancey before a Northern audience in 1860: "Your fathers and my fathers built this government on two ideas: the first is that the white race is the citizen, and the master race, and the white man is the equal of every other white man. The second idea is that the Negro is the inferior race."^“ In the same year, a writer in the Southern Literary Messenger made a similar point in an historical analysis of slavery. Unlike the paternalists, he condemned ancient slavery and medieval serfdom in principle, because under such systems "races richly endowed by nature, and designed for high and lofty purposes, were kept from rising to their natural level." But all forms of white servitude and subordination had fallen before "the progress of truth, justice, and Christianity." Negro slavery, on the other hand, had persisted because it was not really incompatible with the growth of liberty and equality.'^

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fredrickson, George M. *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

George M. Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914* (Wesleyan University Press, 1987), 61–62.

Shortened citation:

Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind*, 61–62.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.25

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

SELECTION	THE CAPTIVES SET FREE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 189–190 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

The flash of that lightning and the peal of that thunder had helped ensure that a new age of republican liberty—with its own hopes, contradictions, and failures—would now begin.

In his study of the impact of the First World War, The Great War and Modern Memory, literary critic Paul Fussell remarked that "every war is ironic because every war is worse than ex¬ pected. Every war constitutes an irony of situation because its means are so melodramatically disproportionate to its presumed ends." From the point of view of white southerners, in the Civil War, like the First World War for a later generation, the ironies were not merely present, but overwhelming.

The social order of the Old South (for among other effects, the Civil War turned the pre-1865 South into the Old South) was an anomaly in the mid-nineteenth century. The white South was fully committed to republican liberty for white men, and to de¬ grading slavery for black people. Southern whites shared with other Americans their commitment to liberty. Liberty meant that men must be free to elect their own leaders and to control their own communities. It also meant that men must them¬ selves be independent, not under the power of any other man. Liberty, therefore, required a measure of equality among citizens. These two aspects of liberty were always to some extent in ten¬ sion. Autonomous men had to be virtuous; they had to be will¬ ing to subordinate the pursuit of purely private gain in order to cooperate for the good of the community as a whole. If they did not, a republic would inevitably deteriorate into an anarchic pur¬ suit of private interest. In particular, if the gap between the rich and the poor were too great, the poor would always be tempted to use their votes to control the state and seize the property of the rich. The resulting anarchy, as the lamentable history of repub¬ lics had shown, would end only when a military despotism had restored order.

The tensions between public and private good, and between liberty and equality, were sharply exacerbated by slavery. In the first place, slavery seemed to mock the very idea of liberty. Slav¬ ery also divided whites into owners and nonowners of slaves, thus undermining the equality so necessary among republican citizens. At least some poor men in the Old South regarded slav¬ ery as the cause of their poverty; they formed a potential base of political opposition to slavery.

Southerners attempted to reconcile liberty and slavery by ap¬ pealing to one important conservative strain of republican ideol¬ ogy. Slavery, they claimed, actually enhanced the sense of equality among white men, and confined to the most debased categories of society—menial labor—an inferior race. Every white man was at least one giant step above all slaves in status, and thus, relative to slaves, true republican equality existed in the ruling group of citizens. Meanwhile slaves, whose aspirations as well as whose capabilities were seen as inferior, were content in their subor¬ dination. Wanting neither equality nor liberty, they never would become the cause of social tumults.

The confidence with which many southern spokesmen made such arguments belied their anxieties about their truth. Slave masters knew that all slaves were not content in their slavery. Masters therefore depended on nonslaveowning whites to bol¬ ster their control over slaves. The gentry did have to accept the plain folk as equals, at least in most public situations, and espe¬ cially at election time. Planters also helped out poor neighbors economically when times

were hard. Such actions helped to re¬ duce the perceived distance between white classes. But the rise of the powerful antislavery Republican party in the North threat¬ ened the South's delicate balance of white liberty and black slav¬ ery. Republicans might appeal to black slaves to strike directly for freedom, and Republicans certainly would try to build up among the plain folk an antislavery party within the South. To many slave masters, the party of Abraham Lincoln thus appeared to be a mortal threat to their entire society. They pulled the South into secession and war to preserve both the liberty and the slavery in that society.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Harris, J. William. *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Footnote citation:

J. William Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands* (Wesleyan University Press, 1985), 189–190.

Shortened citation:

Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 189–190.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.26

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Advocates of paternalism likened the plantation (and even the large farm) to an extended family, in which masters governed their slaves with fi rmness and benevolence, much as they claimed to manage their own wives and children. But with the authority of a family patriarch also came responsibility. Paternalistic masters were expected to attend to their slaves' spiritual welfare as well as their physical needs, most often by devotedly inculcating Christian doctrine and morality, or at least the masters' version of them, among the enslaved. Th e paternalistic ideal hardly defi ned the reality of slaveholder practice in the early-nineteenth-century South, but the end of the African slave trade in □□□□ made the paternalist project of "domesticating" slavery plausible in a way that had been unthinkable as long as large numbers of Africans continued to fl ow into the slave population. Th us the movement's infl uence grew once the federal ban on the foreign trade took eff ect.

Yet from its inception, the paternalist movement attracted more than its share of critics, and it remained a controversial and much-challenged movement for more than two decades. Indeed, in □□□□, the assumptions of paternalism were badly shaken by real or imagined insurrection plots crafted by Denmark Vesey and his lieutenants in Charleston. Th e Charleston investigators of the alleged plot denounced paternalism's permissiveness and indicted its encouragement of slave literacy and loosely supervised slave worship for facilitating slave unrest. Th ey contended that paternalism both emboldened slaves and enervated masters. Th ese critics of paternalism argued that slavery could be sustained only through reliance on force and intimidation—that is, by maintaining a degree of terror among slaves. Th is attack on paternalism succeeded in formally curtailing such paternalist projects as the promotion of slave literacy and the use of slave exhorters to win converts. But, while placed on the defensive by the white reaction to the Vesey scare, paternalists compromised and persevered. As a result, they successfully defended their ideology as the only means of rendering slavery acceptable in the eyes of an increasingly skeptical world. Over time, the ideal of paternalism advanced as a trope through which more and more slaveholders understood themselves and their role as masters.

Whether as a method of slave management or an ideology of slaveholders' selfunderstanding, paternalism gained infl uence in the upper South as well. In the upper South, paternalism attracted advocates in the more heavily slave counties, such as those in Southside Virginia, where most slaveholders wanted to blunt internal as well as external eff orts to end slavery. But in the upper South as a whole, the balance of white opinion pushed primarily for continuing the demographic reconfi guration of slavery and saw the paternalist project as secondarily useful as a means of mollifying critics of the institution's harshness while the broader demographic reconfi guration proceeded apace. In □□□□, Nat Turner's slave rebellion abruptly reminded many upper South whites that the demographic reconfi guration was not occurring rapidly enough, and sparked renewed debate over accelerating the whitening process.

But the demographic reconfi guration desired by upper South whites was itself partially an expression of a South-wide white desire for an even broader type of ideological reconfi guration, one that would make race the chief mark of social distinction in the region. By the early □□□□s, a newly coherent ideology of white supremacy arose to replace the elaborate if informal eighteenth-century system of social hierarchy, which tacitly assigned rank using a variety of measures, with a new nineteenth-century dichotomy of white domination and black subordination. By the □□□□s, white southerners (and many other white Americans) increasingly defi ned social diff erence primarily by race rather than by class, wealth, family, ethnicity, religion, conduct, region, or even property ownership. Th e

ideology of white supremacy replaced an elaborate system of social hierarchy, in which race had been one diff erence among many, with a simple system centered on race. During the □□□□s, this more systematic ideology of white supremacy assigned blacks, free or enslaved, a permanently inferior status and systematically denied them economic and political rights based on skin color.

Th e triumph of a systematic ideology of white supremacy lent momentum to the embrace of paternalism on the basis of the racial inferiority of the enslaved. But the ideology of white supremacy could justify racial separation or racial exclusion as well as racial slavery, and it could be (and was) used to justify the whitening of the upper South as well as the adoption of paternalism in the lower South. In Tennessee and North Carolina, upper South states where racial lines had not already been fi rmly drawn in the public sphere, the rise of this ideology generated a fresh determination to reconfi gure the boundaries of political and civic life in ways that systematically excluded all blacks, including propertied free blacks, from political rights. In □□□□ and □□□□, state constitutional conventions in Tennessee and North Carolina, respectively, fully disfranchised free blacks. Th e fl ip side of this movement to eliminate blacks from civic and political life was the increasing tendency of white southerners to see their skin color as a source of entitlement to all the rights and privileges of citizenship.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lacy K. Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.27

Plain Folk of the Old South

Frank Lawrence Owsley

SELECTION	PLAIN FOLK OF THE OLD SOUTH
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 134–135 · Supplied edition: Louisiana State University Press, 1949.

Excerpt

This sense of unity between all social and economic groups can not be stressed too much, in view of the strongly and widely held opinion to the contrary. Indeed, when the placed in perspective, rather than viewing each segment economic structure of the Old South. A grazing and farm economy rather than a plantation economy was practiced of the slaveholders. Farm economy meant a diversified, self-sufficient type of agriculture, where the money crops were subordinated to food crops, and where the labor was performed by the family or the family aided by a few slaves. Plantation economy depended upon slave labor, and usually specialized in the production of one or more of the the planters; in fact, they frequently produced enough corn for their own use, but such crops were generally subsufficiency of farm economy, the farmers were seldom involved in indebtedness, once they had paid for their lands. Farm economy, together with livestock grazing, not only furnished support for the farmers and herdsmen who composed the bulk of the Southern population but supplied a

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Owsley, Frank Lawrence. *Plain Folk of the Old South*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1949.

Footnote citation:

Frank Lawrence Owsley, *Plain Folk of the Old South* (Louisiana State University Press, 1949), 134–135.

Shortened citation:

Owsley, *Plain Folk of the Old South*, 134–135.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.28

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 6–7 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

Yet I also found that this unity was precarious, not least be¬ cause whites in the Augusta area had a remarkably ambivalent view of themselves and their society. The dominant public ide¬ ology held up the South as almost an ideal type of society, in which black slavery allowed liberty for whites without the dan¬ gers of anarchy. This ideal, which white Southerners called re¬ publican, had as one important facet a strong commitment to an agrarian economy in which most white men were independent producers, and in which most menial labor was performed by a degraded and dependent race that was excluded from the politi¬ cal community. Racially based slavery, therefore, guaranteed white liberty. This ideal was shared by owners and nonowners of slaves, and liberty was as important as slavery in the hearts and minds of even large planters.

This republican vision, however, was far more pessimistic than is modern democratic liberalism. Republicans thought that men were always liable to corruption and decadence and that lib¬ erty was always threatened by the loss of equipoise. It might be overturned, on the one hand, by excessive concentrations of po¬ litical power, especially national political power; or, on the other, by excessive democracy, which in the long run must lead first to anarchy, then tyranny. Slavery, even while it supposedly guaran¬ teed republican liberty for white men, simultaneously created grave threats to that liberty. As a public badge differentiating slaveowners from nonslaveowners, it reminded whites that po¬ litical equality did not translate into economic equality. Rum¬ blings of poor-white discontent frightened planters, especially because they depended on nonslaveowners to keep slaves under control. Planters could never be sure that the bridges between the rich and the poor in the South would be strong enough to withstand the assaults of an increasingly powerful threat from northern abolitionists and free-soilers.

Secession was an attempt by planters to protect what they saw as their liberties, including the liberty to own slaves, from future internal and external threats. The resulting war produced, in one of the many ironies of southern history, exactly what they had most feared. Before the Civil War, southern slaveowners had con¬ tained white class divisions sufficiently well to ensure contin¬ ued control over black people unwilling to accept slavery on any terms but force. But the basis of that containment—an ideology of liberty, a potential for social mobility, and a web of personal relationships between classes—could not withstand the strains of war.

Slave resistance increased dramatically; the support of non¬ slaveholders, at first enthusiastic, withered away and even turned at times to outright opposition,- the republican fear of power was turned—in the supreme irony—on the Confederate government itself. Many slaveowners felt faced with a choice they had al¬ ways considered a logical impossibility: either liberty or slavery. By the end of the war, the bonds of community had so far dis¬ solved that Confederate victory was impossible. Ultimately, the South's conquerors would seek to extend their own version of re¬ publican liberty to freed slaves, and the attempt, however unsuc¬ cessful, would change southern society forever.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Harris, J. William. *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Footnote citation:

J. William Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands* (Wesleyan University Press, 1985), 6–7.

Shortened citation:

Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 6–7.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.29

The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders

James Oakes

SELECTION	aster-class Pluralism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 39–40 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982.

Excerpt

County, North Carolina, the percentage of white families owning slaves increased from 14.[9] in 1790 to 27.[7] in 1860, with no significant concentration of wealth among planters.[5] But the economic structure of antebellum southern society was considerably more complex than the statistics on concentration and maldistribution of wealth reveal. The proportion of slaveholders among southern whites was shrinking even as the absolute number of masters grew by seventy percent in a single generation, to nearly 400,000 in 1860. This expansion suggests widespread opportunity for upward mobility, and among slaveholders the evidence for social fluidity is convincing. There are strong correlations between youth and poverty, and between old age and large slaveholdings, suggesting that as individuals matured there was a good chance for economic advancement.° Slavery created wealthy whites, not poor whites. Indeed, the unequal distribution of wealth in the South may have had little to do with slavery. Throughout America, equally large proportions of whites were impoverished—as many as two out of five. And, as in the North, southern poverty was as much a phenomenon of cities and immigrants as of rural destitution.

What slaveholding did to the economic pyramid of white society was to expand its highest stratum. In 1860, the twelve wealthiest counties in the United States were below the Mason and Dixon line. Adams County, Mississippi, had the highest per capita wealth of any county in the nation.' The median slaveholding rarely strayed far from four to six bondsmen per master. In 1850 half the slaveholders owned five bondsmen or fewer. Small holdings were not only the rule among the foreign-born but among the native-born white, Indian, and black slaveholders as well. In cities, on farms, in the old slave states of Virginia and North Carolina and in the frontier states of Missouri and Texas, the typical slaveholder did not own more than ten slaves. Three out of four masters owned fewer than ten in 1850. Even in the extraordinarily wealthy rice-producing counties of the South Carolina lowcountry, nearly half of the masters owned ten slaves or fewer.® Statistically, at least, the typical slaveholder was not even a planter, much less an aristocrat.

If the slaveholders were an aristocracy, they may well have been the most broadly based aristocracy in Western history. For the first half of the nineteenth century, about a third of all southern white families held slaves, and the fraction never went below a fourth before the Civil War. But even this statistic misrepresents the actual extent of slaveholding. In some of the most heavily populated slave states—South Carolina, Mississippi, Alabama, Georgia—between thirty-five and fifty percent of the white families held slaves in 1860. It would be difficult to argue that forty-eight percent of Mississippi's white families were aristocratic simply because they held slaves.' Yet these numbers still underestimate the extent to which southern whites had a direct material interest in the perpetuation of black slavery. It is clear that the majority of slaveholders who owned no more than five bondsmen were not a stable economic class. At that level it was quite common for owners to hold slaves only erratically, depending upon their seasonal needs or their immediate economic circumstances.

Indeed, movement into and out of the slaveholding class may have been the rule rather than the exception for the majority of masters. The statistics for the number of whites who held slaves at the moment the figures were compiled do not account for the thousands who held slaves intermittently. In addition, there were large numbers of farmers, professionals, tradesmen, and even government bureaucrats who hired slaves on a seasonal or yearly basis. It could be argued that whites who hired slaves were reinforcing planter domination by their dependence on large slaveholders.!° But as often as not, it was the planters who depended 'on non-slaveholding employers to train their bondsmen in a skill or to relieve masters of the burden of caring for more slaves than they could employ usefully.

Like those who temporarily held no slaves, those who hired bondsmen did not show up in the statistics for slaveholding. There was also a smaller but nonetheless significant group of young white Southerners who, by virtue of their education or family background, had every reason to expect that within a few years they would own slaves. One reason poverty corresponded strongly with youth in the Old South was that young professionals who had moved out to the frontier to begin their careers showed up on the tax returns and census records as propertyless. But the goal of many southern doctors and lawyers was to own a plantation worked by slaves, and

Author's Notes

5. Gavin Wright, The Political Economy of the Cotton South (New York, 1978), 29-33; Warren I. Smith, "Land Patterns in Ante-bellum Montgomery County, Walker, Samuel, 201-2, 203-4, 206, 216-17 Washington, D.C., 50 Washington, George, 120, 146 Watkins, J. L., 172 Watson, Henry, Jr., 72, 79, 86, I11, 121, 125, 139, 199-201, 202-3, 208-9, 219, 222, 223 wealth, inequality of, 9, 37-9, 67 West, William, 108 West Point, 70, 198 westward migration, 77-95, 129-30; effect of, on living conditions, 82-7; and expansionism, 147-9; pressure to move, 73—6; reaction against, 87-90, 204-5 Whig Party, 146-7, 199, 200, 206, 207, 220 whipping, 159-60, 163, 167 Index 307 Whitefield, George, 97 Wilcox, Edmund, 26 Wilkes, John, 15 Willson, Eliza Ann, 236 Winchester, James, 74 Winston, John A., 149, 231-2 winter, 199, 222 Withers, William, 203 Witherspoon, David, 204 Witherspoon, Rev. John, 110, 119 women: paternalistic attitude toward, 214; as slaveholders, 50; and westward migration, criticism of, 87-8 Woodson, Charles, 161 Woodward, C. Vann, xiv—xv Yancey, William Lowndes, 235, 239-40

7. Soltow, Men and Wealth, 25, 66, 101, 166-167. It is this southern domination of American wealthholders that explains the higher statistical inequality of the South more than the presence of a larger number of poor whites.

9. Soltow, Men and Wealth, 57; Otto H. Olsen, "Historians and the Extent of Slave Ownership in the Southern United States," Civil War History, 18 (1972), III.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Oakes, James. *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1982.

Footnote citation:

James Oakes, *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders* (Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982), 39–40.

Shortened citation:

Oakes, *The Ruling Race*, 39–40.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.30

Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 371–372 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

Policing one's own ethical sphere was the natural complement of the patriarchal order. When Southerners spoke of liberty, they generally meant the birthright to self-determination of one's place in society, not the freedom to defy sacred conventions, challenge longheld assumptions, or propose another scheme of moral or political order. If someone, especially a slave, spoke or acted in a way that invaded that territory or challenged that right, the white man so confronted had the inalienable right to meet the lie and punish the opponent. Without such a concept of white liberty, slavery would have scarcely lasted a moment. There was little paradox or irony in this juxtaposition from the cultural perspective. Power, liberty, and honor were all based upon community sanction, law, and traditional hierarchy as described in the opening section.

The purpose of unchecked freedom to be one's own final authority went quite beyond the needs of the slaveholding system. It was a matter of personal reputation to prove oneself a master of events to one's family and household, as well as to the world at large. For instance, when Robert E. Lee of Arlington, Virginia, discovered that two young slaves had run away to Pennsylvania, he had them sought after and returned. An anonymous critic informed the Northern public, through the New York Tribune, that Lee had personally supervised their flogging. Lee was responsible for some sixtythree slaves, not all of whom could be usefully employed at the Arlington plantation. He sent some to eastern Virginia, particularly the rebellious ones, who would have less opportunity there to flee northward. Perhaps, as Douglas Southall Freeman claims, that was the extent of his reaction to the runaways' offense. Wesley Norris, one of the pair, gave a grim account of the whipping, however. He said that Lee had watched the proceedings with eyes black with fury and had ordered brine poured into the wounds.
Whether this and like reports are to be believed, it must be remembered that even the gentlest masters—and Lee was reputedly one of them—found occasion when there seemed to them very little choice about the use of coercion. It would not do for any slave to take flagrant advantage of a master's delicacy of conscience. To push too hard against the institution or against an owner's sense of self-esteem was to threaten the social order as it was then understood. Failure to react appropriately could be misinterpreted, not only by the compliant slaves but by the white community, too. The moral problem was itself built into the Southern ethic. One simply could not be made to look inept, powerless, or squeamish. For these reasons, in a case about which there can be no doubts, the Rev. Charles Colcock Jones of

Liberty County, Georgia, had a slave girl flogged until she revealed the name of the individual who had fathered a mulatto child she had given birth to. The gentleman in question had been the elderly clergyman's secretary, a member, temporarily, of the household. Jones was incensed at this breach of the rules regarding hospitality, and his torture of the mother to confirm his suspicions was the consequence.

Neither Lee nor Jones, it must be stressed, used the lash with any regularity. Far from it. One doubtful incident and a singular break with custom, one in northern Virginia, the other in southern

Georgia, scarcely prove these gentlemen recreant to the traditions of Christian honor to which they both subscribed. In response to the newspaper report, Lee acted with customary prudence—hallmark of the chivalric code. His only surviving words about the matter appeared in a letter to his son Custis. "The N.Y. Tribune/' Lee wrote, "has attacked me for my treatment of your grandfather's slaves, but I shall not reply. He had left me an unpleasant legacy."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wyatt-Brown, Bertram. *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 1982), 371–372.

Shortened citation:

Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor*, 371–372.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.31

Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese

SELECTION	Southern Women, Southern Households
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 67–68 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Excerpt

Northern and southern households gradually diverged in their total production—not merely in the special and variable case of subsistence—and in the social surplus that they generated, both within and without the household. Nevertheless, as households, they may usefully be viewed as units that pooled income or resources, albeit from different sources and of different kinds. Households should not be treated uncritically as harmonious units. In the North, as in the South, sons might differ with fathers or wives with husbands about the appropriate use of resources. Southern slaves strenuously differed with slaveholders about "household" decisions that affected the size of rations or, especially, the sale of family members.

Critics might plausibly counter that the distinction between nineteenth-century northern and southern rural households misses obvious similarities, and that the everyday lives of southern and northern households were more similar than different. In both northern and southern yeoman households the family—however grudgingly—pooled labor under the direction of the household head, or father, to produce primarily for its own subsistence and only secondarily for the market. Yet even southern yeoman households were profoundly affected by the slave society in which they were embedded. At issue, albeit in special form, is the debate between those who view the southern slaveholders as a distinct social class and those who would assimilate them to the transatlantic capitalist class. Southern and northern rural households both resembled and differed from each other, but, without denying similarities, I insist upon that degree of difference which contributed to shaping the slaveholders as a historically distinct social class and to shaping the society that they dominated.

The network of southern, rural households contained a variety of different types. Yeoman and slaveholding households, to take the obvious examples, differed significantly in size and composition, and especially in numbers of slaves. For purposes of this discussion, however, I am assuming that, notwithstanding differences in degree, all southern households from yeoman farms to large plantations operated under similar structural constraints. These constraints coalesced in the historically distinct pattern of production and reproduction that is here called a social formation. The claim for structural similarity among different kinds of southern households refers precisely to structural constraints rather than internal dynamics. The differences between yeoman and large slaveholding households, as between slaveholding households of different sizes, remained significant. Not least, from the perspective of this book, the size of a household could have a decisive impact on the work assignments and living conditions of slave women, and on the kinds of work performed by the wives and daughters of household heads.

But when all the internal differences are taken into account, the external constraints remain. The nature of markets affected all households by encouraging a greater degree of household production than was common in the North. If wealthy slaveholding women did not spin or weave, their slave women did, and so did yeoman women and frequently the wives of very small slaveholders. Yeoman women were much more likely to engage in textile production within the home than in factories. Yeoman and slaveholding households were much less likely than their northern equivalents to participate in a labor market, either as sellers or buyers of labor-power. When a yeoman farmer could afford labor in addition to that of his own family, he was likely to buy a slave—to buy the laborer and not merely the labor-power. Northern women (and children), who participated directly in the work of the farm, had a larger voice in decisions about its management than did slaveholding wives (and children), who played far less important roles in production. In the end, the primary difference between southern and northern households remains that the northern

household was free, the southern included slaves.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fox-Genovese, Elizabeth. *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Footnote citation:

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South* (University of North Carolina Press, 1988), 67–68.

Shortened citation:

Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household*, 67–68.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.32

Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country

Stephanie McCurry

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 71–72 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

The only meaningful measure of success was, of course, holding onto the farm. That became increasingly difficult in the 1850s as the Low Country, like the rest of the South, underwent a marked concentration of wealth in land and slaves. The effects on the yeomanry in St. Peter's Parish were twofold. Significant numbers of yeoman families left the parish during the decade, with the poorest most likely to leave. But of those who stayed the great majority managed to hold onto their land, and some, like Abner Ginn, even managed to get ahead.

Persistence rates in the parish were comparable to the rest of the plantation South, with three of ten individuals and almost eight of ten families remaining from 1850 to 1860. Wealth had everything to do with who stayed and who moved on. Almost half of the richest planters were still in the parish ten years later, but fewer than a quarter of landless men remained. Yeomen occupied a middle ground. Between one-quarter and one-half of them remained in the parish throughout the decade, and the likelihood of their doing so increased as their property holdings increased. Among those yeomen who did remain and whose households can be traced over the decade, the poorest (those with fewer than twenty-five acres) struggled and often failed (more than half lost title to their land), but fully eight out of ten held onto their land, and about half even added to their holdings. For yeomen in this lowcountry parish, mobility into the ranks of the planter class was about as common as snow in September. Only one man, and he was probably a planter's son, made such a move during the 1850s. Yeomen had to settle for more modest gains. Two out of every ten increased their holdings in slaves, and a handful, like Ginn's neighbor William Airs, who started the decade with seven or eight slaves, acquired the few more that moved them into the ranks of small planters.[62] For the most part, however, the success they achieved was the one for which they planned: to hold onto the farm, to increase its size and value, and, in the best possible world, to establish the next generation of yeoman farmers. With reasonable prospects of success, self-working farmers went about the work of producing independence.

"Self-working farmer." That was the face lowcountry yeomen turned to the world beyond the fence. But it was only one profile of yeoman household economy, inseparable from the other, domestic, one. Infinitely harder to see, the domestic face turned into the household where the daily work of independence was conducted. Abner Ginn and his neighbors were not really "self-working farmers." On the contrary, the very term expressed their successful appropriation of the labor of others: the women, children, and, sometimes, slaves who peopled their households and tilled their fields. The vitality of male independence that characterized the public sphere of marketplace and ballot box was tied intimately to the legal and customary dependencies of the household.[63]

Dependence was the stuff of which independence—and manhood— were made.

In yeoman households, familial and productive relations were virtually indistinguishable, and both were defined by a series of dependencies that subordinated all members to the male head. Any number of factors /shaped the particular configuration of labor, including, as we have seen, the total number of household members, their sex and age, the stage in the family lifecycle, and the presence of slaves, whether hired or owned, and their sex and age. But in yeoman households the work done by wives, sons, and daughters was, by definition, crucial to the calculus of

production. Even the ownership of slaves did not change the predominantly familial character of household economy. Thus, while relations between masters and slaves were part of the social dynamics of a substantial minority of yeoman households, the relations of domination and subordination characteristic of every household were, in fact, those between the sexes. Gender was thus a primary axis of power in yeoman households. It undergirded the material production of independence and framed its political meanings as well.

Author's Notes

62. See Appendix, Table IV. For persistence and social mobility rates in other parts of the South, see Linden, "Economic Democracy in the Slave South," pp. 174—84, and Hahn, Roots of Southern Populism, pp. 16, 47. For the Low Country in the early antebellum period, see Mark D. Kaplanoff, "Making the South Solid: Politics and the Structure of Society in South Carolina, 1790-1815" (Ph.D. Diss., University of Cambridge, 1979), pp. 22, 43. The lowcountry planter elite had the highest persistence rate in North America in the nineteenth century.

63. For one study that explores the relationship between domestic hierarchies and public, political ones, see Allen Tullos, Habits of Industry: White Culture and the Transformation of the Carolina Piedmont (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1989).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCurry, Stephanie. *Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie McCurry, *Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country* (Oxford University Press, 1995), 71–72.

Shortened citation:

McCurry, *Masters of Small Worlds*, 71–72.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.33

Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi

Charles C. Bolton

SELECTION	Epilogue: Poor Whites and the "New South"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 183–184 · Supplied edition: Duke University Press, 1994.

Excerpt

For most of the antebellum period, any rumblings of discontent from the South's white nonslaveholders were eaSily channeled into the twoparty competition for power between the Whigs and Democrats. Elites controlled both parties, the selection of candidates, and the type of issues open for political debate. Despite such an arrangement, most eligible citizens actively participated in antebellum elections, largely because the two parties offered the voters some alternatives-albeit limited ones-on a variety of important issues. Overall, the antebellum party system avoided a polarization of voters along class lines and preserved elite political power.

As southern slaveholders contemplated secession in the days and months after Lincoln's election, it became clear that a significant number of nonslaveholders would not support the measure. While traditional, elite political leaders initially emerged to lead the antisecession opposition in the South, this leadership generally proved both ineffective and fleeting when matched against the highly motivated secessionists of the region. Burdened with inadequate leadership, the persistent foes of secessionhailing largely from the lower ranks of the region's social structure-were an easy target for the intimidation tactics used by disunion proponents. Although the harassment of poor white voters had occurred during other antebellum elections, the stifling of dissident opinions by secessionists during the disunion crisis represented a degree of undemocratic political maneuvering previously unknown in the region during the antebellum years.

It is unlikely that opponents of secession in Mississippi and North Carolina had the numbers to forestall secession at the time of their states' respective secession convention elections; however, the intimidation practiced by firebrands during the crisis certainly suggests that they thought a popular defeat of their cause remained a possibility. The chance of defeat in fair elections was simply too great to be risked. In numerous postbellum elections where popular opposition threatened Democratic dominance, Democratic leaders would make a similar determination that intimidation and fraud offered a powerful, and often decisive, weapon in the fight against lower-class dissidents.

Fears of a biracial alliance of the poor had also plagued antebellum leaders. In the antebellum South, poor whites and blacks often worked side by side for the benefit of others; they engaged in an underground network of exchange to secure resources unattainable through traditional channels; they gathered SOcially to drink, to gamble, and even on occasion to make love. Poor whites sometimes joined slaves in challenging the concept of slavery itself by helping them escape bondage or participating in slave insurrections. All these activities raised concerns that poor whites might join slaves in a sustained challenge that would ultimately destroy the institution of southern slavery. For numerous reasons, however, antebellum poor whites actually posed only a minor threat as the potential allies of enslaved blacks. For one thing, numerous ties connected poor whites to their wealthier family members and neighbors. Also, the constant geographic mobility among poor whites made them unlikely candidates for any type of sustained political coalition. Most importantly, poor whites, in their dealings with blacks, were just as likely to display racial hatred and violence as they were to engage in acts of mutual understanding and cooperation.

A central political concern of Democratic politicians after the Civil War was the possible challenge of an alliance of poor southerners across racial lines. After black males gained the vote with the ratification of the Fifteenth

Amendment, black voters held the balance of political power whenever white men split their votes between political parties. Although instances of reCiprocal collaboration between poor whites and blacks continued through the Civil War years and beyond, poor whites rarely overcame their racial fears and hatred long enough to cement an endUring biracial political alliance. Democratic leaders, of course, did everything they could to explOit, whenever necessary or possible, the racial anxieties, enmity, and pride of poor whites as a way of insuring loyalty to the Democratic party. Disfranchisement of blacks was eventually adopted as the solution to this "problem." Although the voting restrictions passed in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries were originally conceived as a mechanism for eliminating black voters in the South, the disfranchisers gladly welcomed suffrage restrictions that also eliminated many of the region's politically suspect poor white voters.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bolton, Charles C. *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1994.

Footnote citation:

Charles C. Bolton, *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi* (Duke University Press, 1994), 183–184.

Shortened citation:

Bolton, *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South*, 183–184.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.34

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

SELECTION	N THE MIST OF A REVOLUTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 137–138 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

Contemporaries disagreed, and historians have continued to disagree, on the fundamental impulse behind secession. Seces¬ sionists claimed to be striking for independence to preserve white liberty and black slavery. Then and later, some saw the conflict with the North as largely a straightforward matter of economic interest; others, as more broadly a clash of different cultures. Then and later, still others argued that secession and war were really colossal blunders, in which fundamentally similar sec¬ tions of the country were dragged into disaster by fanatical ide¬ ologues and foolish politicians.

One recent study of South Carolina's secession found the cause in a "crisis of fear." The primary fear, shared by the great major¬ ity of whites, was of slave insurrection. According to this inter¬ pretation, fear was endemic in this society based on racial slav¬ ery, but had been brought to a pitch of near-hysteria by John Brown's raid in 1859 and the excitements of the presidential campaign, which had soon followed. The most recent compre¬ hensive study of Georgia's secession has argued, by contrast, that divisions among whites were the key to secession. Secession, in this interpretation, was essentially a conservative counterrevo¬ lution, designed to stave off challenges to slavery by nonslave¬ holding whites by erecting an independent, "patriarchal re¬ public" on southern soil.

It would be easy to cite evidence from the Augusta area for both these interpretations. Whites did, for good reason, fear that slaves might someday revolt; slaveowners did, for good reason, doubt the political loyalty of poor whites and yeomen. Yet both these interpretations are too simple. It was, first, the combina¬ tion of slave resistance and white class conflict, together with the outside threat posed by a hostile, antislavery party in Wash¬ ington, that fueled the fears of most secessionists. Any one of these threats, or even any two, would have seemed, and been, much less dangerous than all three.

Second, and most important, secessionists analyzed and inter¬ preted their predicament with the help of a theory of politics and history that told them they ought to fear both internal conflict and outside power as threats to liberty, and that also told them what to do about their fears. Few secessionists thought Lincoln or his party would be able to harm slavery immediately. But their time frame was long, and they believed and argued that the ulti¬ mate result of that hostile power must be attack from without, division within, and, finally, the end of slavery—an end that this profoundly racist society would imagine only with horror. Too, secessionists struck for independence out of hope as well as fear. Secession, they thought, would guarantee both black slavery and white liberty. National independence promised to white south¬ erners that sense of personal independence that was the highest of their civic values. Black slavery and white liberty, they had learned to argue, were inseparably bound together. Together they would be saved, or lost.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Harris, J. William. *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Footnote citation:

J. William Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands* (Wesleyan University Press, 1985), 137–138.

Shortened citation:

Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 137–138.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.35

Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South

Keri Leigh Merritt

SELECTION	ntroduction: The Second Degree of Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 34–35 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Excerpt

As the master class scrambled to come up with solutions to an increasingly unwieldy hierarchy, some of them began to argue for slavery in the abstract. Essentially stating that slavery was philosophically just, slavery in the abstract completely divorced bondage from skin color. Fox- Genovese and Genovese wrote that "[p]roslavery logic cast enslavement, broadly defined, as necessary and proper for much of the white race, as well as for practically all of the black race." Slavery in the abstract rapidly won adherents throughout the Deep South in the 1850s, particularly in South Carolina. The issue gained such widespread support among slaveholders that in 1856 the Republican Party distributed handbills cautioning working class whites of the designing and devious plans of the master class – plans that eventually included enslaving poorer whites.

The preservation of this multifaceted slave society, of course, required constant attention. By itself, the legal system could not assure the level of security slave owners needed to feel safe, so they employed extralegal means to buttress the criminal code. Sally Hadden convincingly demonstrated how masters used slave patrols for constant surveillance of both blacks and poor whites. Similarly, slaveholders also relied on extralegal groups like vigilance committees and minute men organizations. Precursors to the Ku Klux Klan, these terroristic groups used violence and threats of violence to maintain the southern hierarchy, and their ranks proliferated with the rise of the Republican Party. Violating a spate of civil liberties laws, the Deep South was a heavily censored society, where speaking of abolition, or reading about class issues, or listening to a sermon on the humanity of slaves could end in a swift death of the accused. Slaveholders' increasing intolerance for dissenting ideas revealed just how threatening they found Republicanism. Placed in the context of class tension between whites, it becomes easier to understand why the master class viscerally feared the emerging party. Founded on principles of free labor, agrarian reform, and a type of relatively egalitarian, smallscale capitalism, Republicans not only seemed like radicals to slaveholders – they were truly revolutionary, and not solely because of their stance on slavery. The new party clearly elucidated the staggering differences between the two sections of the country, and the comparison did not bode well for the South, where large-scale, slave-labor capitalism reigned supreme. Offering land to the landless and workers' rights to wage laborers, the entire Republican platform would have been incredibly appealing to southern poor whites – a possibility that terrified slaveholders.

Chapter 9 focuses on the lead up to secession, the presidential election of 1860, and the Civil War. Given all of the injustices that poor whites were facing by the late antebellum period, members of the class became increasingly upset – and more confrontational – about their exclusion from the southern economy. Poor white labor unions occasionally warned that they would withdraw their support for slavery altogether, making overt threats about the stability of the institution, and the necessity of poor white support for that stability. Indeed, as lower-class whites became more militant about their exclusion from the southern economic system, slaveholders realized the urgent need to finally address class tensions. By the eve of war, affluent Southerners used an insidious form of racism to try to scare lower-class whites into supporting secession, predicting that the poor would be slaughtered by the thousands in an inevitable race war following emancipation.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Merritt, Keri Leigh. *Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Footnote citation:

Keri Leigh Merritt, *Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South* (Cambridge University Press, 2017), 34–35.

Shortened citation:

Merritt, *Masterless Men*, 34–35.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.36

Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic

Erskine Clarke

SELECTION	The Promised Land
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 452–453 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

Maybank and Montevideo and from the cabins of the settlements.

Because their memories were different, because their memories emerged out of two different if overlapping spheres, they saw different worlds in 1865 and in¬ terpreted their present moment in different ways. As Mary watched Patience and others assert their independence, she wrote: My heart is pained and sick¬ ened with their vileness and falsehood in every way. I long to be delivered from the race." Mary, however, still felt a sense of duty toward the black people who surrounded her, and she would struggle with stoic fortitude to do her duty for a people she was convinced were finally unable to take care of themselves. Pa¬ tience, on her part, looked at the world of 1865 and saw freedom and an oppor¬ tunity to be faithful to a new future. Her memory would challenge what Mary remembered about how things had been at Montevideo and Maybank in "hap¬ pier days," and Patience's independence would assert that she did not need or want Mary's dutiful care. Each woman's memory thus acted for its possessor as a filter through which to interpret the war, Yankee victory, and emancipation. Now at the beginning of a new day, the two women, each guided by her mem¬ ory, responded in different ways to the strange events unfolding around them.[20]

Patience and Porter, Charles and Lucy, Niger and Tenah, together with the other Gullah people of the county, found themselves not only struggling over labor and land, but also forging new ways for themselves in other areas of their lives. Almost immediately they began to assert their freedom by claiming family names and family histories. Before emancipation they had been called only Pa¬ tience or Porter, Stepney or Charles, Lucy or Tenah. To be sure, there had been an occasional last name when needed for identification —Sandy Maybank the carpenter had needed to be distinguished from Sandy Jones the carpenter. But for the great majority of slaves, there was only a first name. This use of first names only had been a powerful instrument of control by whites, for it said that slaves had no family and no history, only an immediate relationship to white owners. Consequently in the records of Midway Church, Charles was "Charles, servant of the Rev. C. C. Jones" —not Charles the son of Andrew and Mary Ann, not Charles the husband of Lucy, not Charles the father of Tenah, only "Charles, the servant of..."2

Author's Notes

20. For the ways in which memory can shatter the ideological claims of a dominant class, see Michael Walzer, Interpretation and Social Criticism (Cambridge, Mass., 1987); Hans-Georg Gadamer, Truth and Method (New York, 1984), esp. "Hermeneutics and Historicism," 460-491; Paul Ricoeur, The Conflict of Interpretations (Evanston, Ill., 1974)-

23. MJ, Journal, 4 November 1866, JTU.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clarke, Erskine. *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Erskine Clarke, *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic* (Yale University Press, 2005), 452–453.

Shortened citation:

Clarke, *Dwelling Place*, 452–453.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.37

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	A DUTY AND A BURDEN
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 75–76 · Supplied edition: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

John S. Wise of Virginia, looking back on the fall of the Confederacy from the vantage point of the turn of the century, condemned slavery as a curse and expressed relief that it had passed. But he also observed: "There is not a graveyard in Old Virginia but has some tombstone marking the restingplace of somebody who accepted slavery as he or she found it, who bore it as a duty and a burden, and who wore himself or herself out in the conscientious effort to perform that duty well."' Those words "duty" and "burden" recurred time and again. They must be appreciated as being central to the self-image and self-respect of the master class if either the slaveholders or the slaves are to be understood. The twin themes sounded in eighteenth-century Virginia. William Byrd wrote to an English earl in 1726:

Besides the advantage of a pure Air, we abound in all kinds of Provisions without expence (I mean we who have Plantations). I have a large Family of my own, and my Doors are open to Every Body, yet I have no Bills to pay, and half-a-Crown will rest undisturbed in my Pocket for many Moons together. Like one of the Patriarchs, I have my Flocks and my Herds, my Bond-men and Bond-women, and every Soart of Trade amongst my own Servants,

Later in the century the tart Landon Carter denounced blacks as "devils" and concluded that emancipation would be madness since it would unleash them. Yet, his diary for 1757 shows him following an ill field hand through an assortment of miseries and cures with the utmost care and concern. His diary reveals constant attention to the needs of his slaves.'

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (Pantheon Books, 1974), 75–76.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 75–76.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.38

The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	The Dilemma
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 33–34 · Supplied edition: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The Dilemma 33 an accompanying infidelity. New doctrines dared to raise man to the place reserved for God and thereby threatened moral decay and assaulted church and state, divinely ordained family and social relations, and God Himself. Caveats notwithstanding, the slaveholders did place great weight on the quantitative progress of morality and did see material progress as its handmaiden. They thus linked Protestant Christianity to economic liberalism and political republicanism, much as a host of bourgeois liberals did. But in the slaveholders' perspective, slavery or, more precisely, the several forms of personal servitude, provided the necessary foundation for a society that could sustain a Christian social order and guarantee individual freedom for those who deserved and were competent to wield it.[35] They acknowledged that the greater the extent to which the individual found himself free to pursue his own destiny, the greater his contribution to the economic progress on which the pace, although not the content, of moral progress depended.

And in this spirit they joined their liberal adversaries at home and abroad in embracing the claims of freedom as developed in classical political economy as well as in the emerging arguments for freedom of thought. The southerners' warm praise of the benefits of freedom and progress have led many able historians, reviewing these and other matters, to attribute to the slaveholders a basically bourgeois worldview to which they merely tacked on an opportunistic defense of slave property and racial stratification. These historians have found irresistible the invitation to conflate the slaveholders' searing ambivalence with the kind of moral objections to the social devastation attendant upon unregulated capitalist development that were being heard in London, Paris, New York, and Boston, as well as in Charlottesville and Williamsburg, Columbia and Charleston, Huntsville and Mobile.

They err, for the slaveholders, unlike conservatives in the North and abroad, explicitly identified the free-labor system i s the source of the moral evils and forged a critique that struck at its heart.3° With 34 The Slaveholders' Dilemma varying degrees of boldness, one after another came to view the freedom of labor as a brutal fiction that undermined the propertied classes' sense of responsibility for the moral and material welfare of society. Despite similarities, only some of the important features of the reigning sensibility and worldview of the Old"South may be assimilated to the broad current of conservatism that acted as a counterpoint to the increasingly dominant liberalism of the transatlantic world. In the North, in Britain, and most strikingly on the Continent, conservatives reacted forcefully against the high social costs of the industrial revolution, against radical-democratic and egalitarian social and political creeds, against secularization and the no less dangerous emergence of liberal theologies, and against the insidious pressures toward repudiation of church and family, authority and hierarchy, order and tradition.

But for most, even their harshest critiques of the consequences of progress and individual freedom remained grounded in a fundamental acceptance of the reigning capitalist socioeconomic system. Some European and northern conservatives did assail capitalism itself, but they did so as isolated intellectuals who had been stripped of the social base on which the slaveholders stood. The great divergence of southern thought from northern and transatlantic bourgeois thought, including its bourgeoisconservative variant, appeared in the confrontation with the specific nature of freedom and its implications for the present and future, most significantly the condition of laborers. Even the advocates of the extreme proslavery argument — of slavery as the natural and proper condition of all labor, regardless of race — understood freedom to entail a good deal more than their own claims to freedom as a

privileged and preferred status. They acknowledged individual freedom as the motor force of a providential and potentially good historical progress. They simultaneously insisted that slavery afforded the best foundation for a free society. The slaveholders' reaction against the ravaging conse-

Author's Notes

35. Ibid., p. 199. For an illuminating analysis on the attempt to rescue Bacon from the Utilitarians see Faust, Sacred Circle, pp. 71-73.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860*. Columbia: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860* (University of South Carolina Press, 1992), 33–34.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma*, 33–34.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.39

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

SELECTION	The Ideological Reconfiguration of Slavery in the Lower South
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 514–515 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Arguably, no one understood the concept of wage slavery better than Lowcountry planter and Charleston banker William Henry Trescot. Trescot argued that "wherever the political theory of government recognizes the equality of labor and capital," social reality would often reveal "the one in hopeless and heartless dependence on the other," producing a "constant jealousy and a bitter strife" between the propertied and working classes that divided society and left "the weaker demanding its rights with impotent cursing or enforcing them with revolutionary fi erceness." Slavery, Trescot concluded, had proven "the dream of political philosophers" by solving for the South the "most dangerous of social questions," that of class confl ict; by becoming the "great leveller, not by dragging down, but by raising up, it has made a society of equals."

With slavery for blacks justifi ed by race and slavery defended as a proper foundation for republican government through its ability to mute class confl ict among whites, the question that remained was how slavery could be squared with the safety of whites and the humanity of the slaveholders. Toward that end, the third, fi nal, and arguably most critical, aspect of the lower South's ideological recon- fi guration of slavery involved the fi nal triumph of paternalism as the dominant ideology of slaveholding in the Old South. Th e triumph of paternalism was a slow and contested one, fought for over more than a generation by a cohort of slaveholders, clergy, and other white southerners committed to paternalism as an ideology of slavery and a method of slave management against other slaveholders and white southerners who were in varying proportions indiff erent, skeptical, and even hostile toward the paternalist cause.

Th e triumph of paternalism as the dominant ideology of slaveholding in the Old South was the triumph of a specifi c and identifi able ideology within a discrete historical setting. It was neither part of a universal tendency toward noblesse oblige among wealthy elites nor the inevitable outcome of day-to-day struggles between masters and slaves, though both of these phenomena, and especially the latter, played a role in shaping both the ideology and the practice. Instead, the rise of paternalism in the Old South was infl uenced by a number of impinging historical contingencies, some of which threatened its rise and others that advanced its cause. Diff erently put, the triumph of the paternalist insurgency was historically specifi c but hardly inevitable. For example, times looked dark for paternalism in the immediate aftermath of Nat Turner's rebellion, as waves of legislation across the lower South created laws either inimical to or diffi cult to square with paternalism. When Charles Jones visited Charleston in the fall of □□□□, all the wise local voices cautioned against any further advocacy of the paternalist cause, especially as it centered on the religious instruction of slaves, because public suspicion and hostility rendered the question too delicate for further agitation.

But as the South geared up to respond to the substantive charges leveled by the abolitionists in the petition and mail campaigns of □□□□ rather than simply the nature of the campaigns themselves, and as eff ective if temporary remedies were applied to stop the fl ow of abolition pamphlets into the South and sidetrack the petitions submitted to Congress, the need to eff ectively combat the abolitionist critics on humanitarian grounds eventually struck many slaveholders and other white southerners as the key to eff ectively rebuffi ng the latest antislavery ideology. And they saw it as both essential and urgent. Th e ideology of paternalism, with its argument about the domestication of slavery and the broad social benefi ts its proponents claimed not only could but did fl ow from paternalism as a social system, provided the perfect counter to abolition charges that holding slaves violated all reasonable humanitarian

sensibilities. As paternalism gained currency as an ideology for justifying slavery, longtime advocates of paternalism remained determined to make sure that theirs was not a hollow triumph. Th ey insisted on an active religious mission to the slaves and that masters provide better treatment of slaves. Th ese paternalists wanted not only a rhetorical defense of slavery that centered on a paternalist ideology but a system of slavery actually characterized by paternalist practices—at least to the extent possible in a large and diverse region.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lacy K. Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 514–515.

Shortened citation:

Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 514–515.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.40

Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South

Michael Tadman

SELECTION	Part Two: Slave Trading and the Values of Masters and Slaves
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 218–219 · Supplied edition: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Excerpt

These categories are not intended to be exhaustive and represent no more than a few very general types. The evidence of the trade, however, helps to make sense of them. "Broad paternalists," although figuring so prominently in the proslavery argument and in the long-

Individual slaves, perhaps especially some domestics, might have been indulged by some owners from category two (and perhaps even categories three and four), but genuine paternalistic sacrifice seems to have been a rarity. Slaveholder and slaves were not intimately linked in a deepest of slave emotions do not suggest a system based on positive incentives, diligent workers, high morale, and accommodation within a joint economic enterprise. Slaveholder priorities and attitudes suggest, instead, a system based much more crudely on arbitrary power, distrust, and fear. [13] It is true there was, to some extent, interpenetration of white and slave culture—particularly in the outer form which slave religion took—but the general context of planter as speculator suggests only a severely limited interaction and sharing. [14] Essentially, speculators—meaning in this case slaveholders as well as traders—did not know and did not want to know enough of slave values for profound interactions to take place.

Author's Notes

11. On racist stereotyping of blacks as animals and children, see Fredrickson, Black Image, pp. 43-70.

13. Such comments run counter to the general accommodation theory of Fogel and Engerman in Time on the Cross.

14. On ideas of cultural penetration of masters into the world of slaves, and on "organic" relationships between masters and slaves, see Genovese, Roll, Jordan, Roll, pp. 73, 124-25, and Fox-Genovese and Genovese, Fruits of Merchant Capital, pp. 144-47, 138-39.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tadman, Michael. *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Michael Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South* (University of Wisconsin Press, 1989), 218–219.

Shortened citation:

Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves*, 218–219.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.41

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

SELECTION	Antebellum Slavery: Organization, Control, Paternalism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 111–112 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

In short, although there was an extraordinary variety of slave experiences, the slave population was relatively undifferentiated in terms of economic and social status. Slaves performed numerous occupations under widely varying conditions, but except on atypically large estates those conditions did not encourage the emergence of sharp social divisions among them. The dependent status they shared, together with the limited opportunity for specialization of labor and the substantial degree of occupational mobility, meant that antebellum Southern slaves formed a population that paradox¬ ically was marked by great uniformity even as it exhibited great diversity. Despite the multiplicity of different slave experiences, much more united the slaves than divided them.

Antebellum slave relations were marked by a dualism inher¬ ent in slavery: slaves were at the same time both objects and sub¬ jects, human property held for the purpose of enriching the masters and individuals with lives of their own. But this dualism was es¬ pecially pronounced in the antebellum South because conditions there accentuated personal relations between master and slave to an extent rarely seen in other slave-owning societies. Slavery served mercenary goals in the South, as it did elsewhere, but it did far more than that; to most masters, slavery represented a civilization or way of life that ordered their very existence.

The distinctive way in which Southern slave owners looked upon and dealt with their slaves has recently been characterized by the term “paternalism.” This concept is useful, but it is important to specify what it does and does not mean, for it has generated wide¬ spread confusion. Slave-owner paternalism involved not a good, painless, or benign slavery—all contradictions in terms—but a slav¬ ery in which masters took personal interest in the lives of their slaves. The typical Southern slave owner knew his or her slaves by name and interacted with them on a frequent basis, not only directing their labor but also looking after their welfare and interfering in their lives. Masters saw their slaves not just as their laborers but also as their “people,” inferior members of their extended households from whom they expected work and obedience but to whom they owed guidance and protection. Not all masters took their paternalistic responsibilities seriously, but the small size of slaveholdings and the resident character—and mentality—of slaveholders produced un¬ usually close contact between master and slave and fostered among many slave owners a strong paternalistic self-image. They spoke frequently of their “love” for their slaves, and although such asser¬ tions contained considerable hyperbole, they also expressed the very real conviction that there was more to slavery than profit and loss. If the seeds of this paternalism were already widely sown in the eighteenth-century Chesapeake, with the simultaneous emergence of a largely resident planter class and a predominantly creole slave population, its full blossoming occurred throughout much of the South during the half century before the Civil War.

Antebellum Southern publicists increasingly bombarded the read¬ ing public with admonitions to take good care of their people, look¬ ing after their physical needs, spiritual welfare, and general hap¬ piness. As Presbyterian minister (and Georgia slave owner) Charles C. Jones argued in The Religious Instruction of the Negroes (1842), blacks “were placed under our control... not exclusively for our benefit but theirs also,” so they could receive moral and religious uplift; “we cannot disregard this obligation thus divinely imposed, without forfeiting our humanity, our gratitude, our consistency, and our claim to the spirit of Christianity itself.” Although there was a strong propagandistic element to such public discourse—defenders of slavery were eager to prove to the outside world the humane nature of the slave regime—the profusion of essays, speeches, and sermons on the “Christian responsibilities” of slave owners inevitably influenced the general consciousness and behavior of Southern whites at large. What is more, similar themes are evident in the private correspon¬ dence of slave owners, including their instructions to overseers. As rice planter P. C. Weston informed his overseer, “his first object is to be, under all

circumstances, the care and well being of the ne¬ groes. The Proprietor is always ready to excuse such errors as may proceed from want of judgment; but he never can or will excuse any cruelty, severity, or want of care towards the negroes."o

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kolchin, Peter. *American Slavery, 1619-1877*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Peter Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877* (Hill and Wang, 1993), 111–112.

Shortened citation:

Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877*, 111–112.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.42

Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South

Barbara Krauthamer

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Excerpt

1835 confirmed that upon a man's death, his estate passed to his widow and children. Widows who remarried and squandered their children's inheritance, specifically slaves, would not be allowed to continue serving as the guardian of their children's property. In the case of orphans who inherited slaves, their guardian was required to hire out the slaves "to the highest bidder for the benefit of the orphans." Laws also addressed the issue of enslaved people's ownership of property, stating that by the end of 1836, no "negro slaves shall be in possession of any property or arms,' and any property or arms seized from slaves would be auctioned for the benefit of the Choctaw Nation. Legal distinctions between Indians and black people extended beyond slavery, as the Choctaw constitution of 1840 held that "no free negro, or any part negro" could settle in the Choctaw Nation. By contrast, other laws held that white men— by definition "free'—only needed to "procure permission in writing from the Chief or the United States Agent" to reside in the Choctaw Nation." Racial categories came into sharper relief in the constitutional provisions regarding sex and citizenship.

In the early decades of the nineteenth century, Choctaw and Chickasaw lawmakers embraced a racial ideology that linked race with legal status—free or enslaved—and citizenship. While Indians from other nations might be naturalized and adopted as Choctaw citizens and white men could gain citizenship after marrying a Choctaw woman, "a negro or descendant of a negro" was not eligible for naturalization. The 1840 constitution elaborated on the subject of race and citizenship, barring anyone "who is any right to own slaves, prohibited slaves' ownership of property, and barred anyone of African descent from citizenship, suffrage, and office holding in the Chickasaw Nation." The right to own property instead of being owned as property was thus a cornerstone of Choctaw and Chickasaw conceptions of citizenship, which was defined in terms of race. The racial construction of citizenship was, furthermore, asserted as a natural distinction that should not be transgressed. Indian legislators condemned sexual relationships between Indians and black people and punished Choctaws and Chickasaws for "publicly tak[ing] up with a negro slave" with fines, whippings and, ultimately, expulsion from the nation."

Proscriptions against interracial marriage or "public" relationships between Indians and black people not only naturalized the notion of racial difference but also helped define and maintain the boundaries of race and citizenship.*° Physical dominance and violence often served to mark and maintain the distance and differences between free and enslaved people. Choctaw and their households under a male head already marked a significant change from older practices of matrilineality, and vesting the male head with expansive control over the people and property in his household only underscored the shift. According to missionary Cyrus Kingsbury, Choctaws equated owning slaves with owning other types of property, and he expected that younger generations would learn that one day they, too, "may lawfully buy them & mark [slaves]. Many slaves' bodies bore the marks of whippings and physical abuse inflicted by Indian slaveholders and the white men they employed as overseers. In 1822 Choctaw slaveholder Anthony Tyrnbull "hired a white man to drive his negroes." In 1824 the U.S.

Indian agent posted in the Chickasaw Nation noted that white men were hired as overseers not only on large plantations but also on smaller farms, where they monitored and punished enslaved workers. Choctaw and Chickasaw planters did not rely exclusively on white overseers to direct and correct their slaves. When Peter Pitchlynn traveled away from his plantation, for example, he relied on his brother to manage his slaves and "whip

them" if necessary.*! Ex-slaves Matilda Poe and Kiziah Love each spoke of owners who whipped and punished their slaves.** With the expansion of chattel slavery in the southern Indian nations, slaveholders relied on violence as a routine means of punishment, and physical abuse became an uneventful daily occurrence in the lives of the enslaved and slaveholders. Violence directed toward enslaved people differed significantly from the physical correction and even executions prescribed by the legal code as punishments for crimes committed by citizens or other free people in the nations. The violence and coercion leveled against enslaved people went largely unchecked beyond individual slaveholders' calculations of the gains or losses that might be incurred as a result of bodily domination.
Physical violence against slaves served not simply as a mode of correction but as a demonstration of slaveholders' power and mastery. In 1816 the agent to the Chickasaws reported to his superiors that "several negroes have been lately murdered in this nation in a most barbarous, cruel, and unprovoked manner.' In one case, an Indian master killed one of his slaves and defended the attack by stating that he owned the slave and thus could kill him.*®
Violence against enslaved women stretched across time and space when slaveholders laid claim to enslaved women's future children and when they sold children away from their mothers and families. In her 1859 will, Sophia Pitchlynn, Peter Pitchlynn's mother, bequeathed a number of enslaved boys and girls to her own adult children, making no mention of the enslaved parents from

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Krauthamer, Barbara. *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Barbara Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2013), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.43

The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860

Calvin Schermerhorn

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 6–7 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

Each chapter focuses on a small number of subjects connected to one another, and each examines a challenge of capitalist development. One of the obstacles to the growth and development of an interstate market was that the value of things was locally contextualized and the terrain bristled with obstructions. Chapter 1 follows the long, bitter trail of captives driven by Francis E. Rives and his partners from eastern Virginia to the lower South in 1818 and the economic geography of a slave market serving a booming cotton country. Rives and his partners faced the problem of how to transport assemblages or coffles of captives many hundreds of miles along poor roads, over wide rivers, and through Indian nations. Like captives, bank money and other financial paper typically did not travel well, and Rives's strategy had to account for what amounted to a tax on distance at the point of sale. He and his partners were small traders whose firm serves as a baseline for the business. Poorly capitalized and technologically limited slave traders like Rives continued to drive caravans of captives across the southern United States even into the Civil War, finding niches neglected by more well-organized enslavers.

Success in the slavery business required innovation, and slave traders served financial and not merely agricultural strategies. Chapter 2 traces the rise of an intensely entrepreneurial young businessman, Austin Woolfolk, and his Baltimore-based slaving firm. Woolfolk built a reputation into a brand. Through relentless newspaper advertising he conjured an ongoing slave market before it existed. His firm brokered interstate sales by offering banknotes or liquid assets to debt-burdened Chesapeake slaveholders and sold those captives to countrymen in the lower South who were taking on a mountain of debt in order to expand commodity production. As his firm became a perpetual clearing house for bondspersons, Woolfolk solved problems of supply by cooperating with purchasing agents in places such as Easton on Maryland's Eastern Shore and a sales facility in New Orleans managed by an uncle. To solve problems of transport, his firm bought excess space from merchant shippers, giving Baltimore's maritime community a financial stake in the interstate slave trade. Woolfolk's enterprise accelerated a demographic catastrophe among African-descended families in the Chesapeake, but even those north of the Mason-Dixon Line were affected by the development of the lower South cotton kingdom.

Chapter 3 follows John Craig Marsh's reinvention from failed New York City dry goods merchant to successful Louisiana sugar planter. Changes in Anglo-American trade after 1815 sped that transformation, as did federal tariff protections for domestic sugar. But Marsh and a partner lowered startup costs by smuggling New Jersey bondspeople to the canebrakes of the lower Mississippi Valley, supplementing their labor force with African-descended New York contract workers whose circumstances amounted to indentured servitude. They entered a place in which official toleration of slave smuggling was a tool to rule a state whose inhabitants were notoriously hard to govern. Marsh's eager pursuit and others like it illuminate tensions between a federal legal framework that ostensibly regulated slaving and the political economies of slavery that existed within the federal republic in the late 1810s.

As North American commercial agriculture expanded in the 1820s and 1830s, British and other foreign capital flooded into American financial institutions and, through them, into the hands of enslavers. Chapter 4 explores the banking schemes of Hugues Lavergne, Edmond Jean Forstall, and their colleagues as they gave slaveholders a means to draw equity from the bodies of enslaved people, which they bundled and sold abroad. Slaveholders used that leverage to expand sugar and cotton production while slavery's bankers sold the resulting securities to investors in

New York, Britain, and Europe. Louisiana's sugar economy thrived on that foreign investment in property banks' mortgagedbacked securities, many eventually sold to investors who had little idea they were investing in slavery. The money supply expanded, and equity in lands and slaves bought more lands and slaves, improving technology such as sugar refining in the process. Demand for bondspersons increased correspondingly.

As finance and trade grew in sophistication, so did interstate slaving firms. Chapter 5 charts the rise and decline of the most successful U.S. slave-trading firm of the 1830s, Franklin and Armfield. Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and their partners, including the Richmond trader Rice C. Ballard, built an expansive domestic interlocking partnership that was vertically organized and fiercely competitive. Captives circulated through the company's arteries and capital flowed through its veins at a relentless velocity. Franklin was the apotheosis of slavery's capitalist and solved the problem of interstate remittances by burrowing into the New Orleans banking community and using cotton bills of exchange. In the 1830s Franklin and Armfield's Chesapeake agencies eclipsed Austin Woolfolk's firm while building a dedicated slaving fleet and running the company like a railroad. The firm's fortunes rose during the flush times of the early to mid–1830s, when the Andrew Jackson administration liberalized foreign trade, boosted state banking while killing the Second Bank of the United States, and accelerated the extirpation of the Indians' lands, all of which helped propel enslavers' fortunes.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schermerhorn, Calvin. *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Calvin Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860* (Yale University Press, 2015), 6–7.

Shortened citation:

Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*, 6–7.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.44

Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War

David L. Lightner

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 86–87 · Supplied edition: New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Excerpt

When the Taney court, in Dred Scott v. Sandford (1857), declared that Congress did not have the constitutional power to ban slavery in the territories, even the most moderate opponents of slavery were horrified. There was, however, another aspect to the Dred Scott decision that also was important at the time but is less remembered today, and that is the fact that most of the majority justices grounded their ruling upon an extreme defense of the property rights of slaveholders. In the official opinion of the court, Chief Justice Taney said that for Congress to prohibit slavery in a territory was to violate the Fifth Amendment guarantee that a citizen could not be deprived of property without due process of law. “An act of Congress which deprives a citizen of the United States of his liberty or property, merely because he came himself or brought his property into a particular Territory of the United States, and who had committed no offence against the laws, could hardly be dignified with the name of due process of law,” Taney declared. (The fallacy in Taney’s reasoning here is obvious.

If Congress has outlawed slavery in a territory, then the slaveholders he speaks of have committed an offense against the law. Therefore, the loss of their property does come about through due process of law. Of course Taney denies that because he holds that the law in question is unconstitutional. But why is it unconstitutional? Well, Taney says, it is unconstitutional because it takes property away from slaveholders who have committed no offense. Taney’s reasoning is circular.) Taney added that the only power conferred by the Constitution upon the federal government with regard to slave property was “the power coupled with the duty of guarding and protecting the owner in his rights.” Justices Wayne and Grier concurred fully with Taney.

Justice Daniel stressed property rights even more strongly, saying that “the only private property which the Constitution has specifically recognised, and has imposed it as a direct obligation both on the States and the Federal Government to protect and enforce, is the property of the master in his slave; no other right of property is placed by the Constitution upon the same high ground, nor shielded by a similar guaranty.” Justice John Campbell (the only newcomer to the court since the Cooley case) claimed that it was already a “settled doctrine” of the court that the federal government “can exercise no power over the subject of slavery within the States, nor control the intermigration of slaves, other than fugitives, among the States.” Whatever state law makes property, Campbell said, must be recognized as property by the federal government in all areas within its jurisdiction.

Therefore, “wherever a master is entitled to go within the United States, his slaves may accompany him, without any impediment from, or fear of, Congressional legislation or interference.”≥π Thus five justices—a majority of the court’s members—had explicitly affirmed that Congress could not ban slavery from a territory because to do so was to violate property rights.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lightner, David L. *Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Footnote citation:

David L. Lightner, *Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006), 86–87.

Shortened citation:

Lightner, *Slavery and the Commerce Power*, 86–87.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.45

Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South

Deborah Gray White

SELECTION	Revisiting Aren't Ia Woman?
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 9–10 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1985.

Excerpt

I would make the same argument today but with strong qualifications. Over the course of writing Ar'n't / a Woman? 1 had two children—two girls. I could not escape the vulnerability and dependency that these female experiences gave rise to. When I was pregnant I thought about how it would feel to pick cotton or dig ditches, or be beaten or raped. Some critics allege that I muted slavery's brutality—and the consequent dogged resistance. If so, it was because the historiographic moment and the historical record supported the emphasis on agency and survival, and my findings fit with what I needed to believe about the sheer will and courage of African-American women—that they could overcome their many tribulations. Subsequent works like Stevenson's Life in Black and White: Family and Community in the Slave South, Melton A. McLaurin's Celia, A Slave, Dorothy Roberts's Killing the Black Body, and Nell Painter's "Soul Murder: Toward a Fully Loaded Cost Accounting of Slavery" have nudged me to reconsider the agency I ascribed to African-American women, and the entire body of literature written after, and in response to, Stanley Elkin's "Sambo theory."

Without diminishing the role of religion, the family and kinship networks, and the female community in the survival and emotional health of enslaved African-Americans, more attention needs to be paid to the psychological costs of enslavement. As Nell Painter has argued, we need to "investigate the consequences of child abuse and sexual abuse on an entire society in which beating and raping of enslaved people was neither secret nor metaphorical."'5 Given what we know today about the effects of abuse, the way it spawns feelings of anger, low self-esteem, depression, and even self-hatred, can we discuss black female survival without tackling the rage that dwelled within? Enslaved women endured repeated rapes, were surrounded by and were victims of violence. As mothers they were beaten in front of their children, watched their children be beaten, and very often beat them themselves, if only to spare them later violence at the hands of masters and mistresses. Enslaved women were treated indecently during sale and some had experimental gynecological operations and cesarean sections performed on them—without benefit of anesthesia.'® Rose Williams, whose story of coerced sex at age sixteen is related on pages 102-103, survived long enough to be interviewed in the 1930s. Her testimony that "after what I does for the massa, I's never wants no truck with any man," suggests that the price she paid was life without male sex, love, or companionship. Maybe women who managed to resist personal violence avoided the debilitating psychological anguish that Williams endured. Maybe. Still, today, I would pay more attention to the psychological impact of violence and abuse as a way to emphasize the resistance waged against it. In the context of violence and its psychological impact, enslaved women never look as strong, nor as hereic, as when viewed as agents in their family, religious, female, or kinship networks. They look vulnerable and even frail, traits not generally associated with African-American women.

Pairing the psychological with the enslaved woman's means of survival has helped us analyze many patterns that emerged after slavery. Recent work has traced black female migration, dissemblance, institution and community building back to abuse of the black female body.'? America's constant concern with black women's morality, chastity, and respectability flow from slavery's legacy, as well as the rape, medical experimentation, and reproductive control that black women continued to endure through the twentieth century. As work continues on the psychological dimensions of abuse, on the enslaved woman's body as the site of interracial masculine conflict, on African-American ways of healing, we will know more than we ever knew about black women's ways of resisting, surviving, and living.'* If pursued with the rigor that the subject demands, the violence done to black women might well de-center lynching

as the primary site and preeminent expression of white (sexual) anxiety on the black body.

I believe, however, that new scholarship should not and will

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

White, Deborah Gray. Ar'n't I a Woman? Female Slaves in the Plantation South. Rev. ed. New York: W. W. Norton, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Deborah Gray White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South* (W. W. Norton, 1985), 9–10.

Shortened citation:

White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?*, 9–10.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.46

The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism

Edward E. Baptist

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2014.

Excerpt

Every forced migrant whose story has survived tells us that when they crossed the threshold of the fields of a new slave labor camp, they entered a world that was fundamentally different from the one in which they had toiled before. As Ball lined up by the first waist-high cotton plant of his row, he was about to learn a new way of working, one meant to occupy most of the waking moments remaining to him on earth. He saw Simon take a row, lift his hoe, and begin to work rapidly down the side of his furrow. Everyone else began to do the same, in a great hurry. Ball could see that each of them had to chop all the weeds in their row without damaging the cotton plants. But then the man in the next row warned him that no one was allowed to fall behind the captain. Ball realized that thus "the overseer had nothing to do but to keep Simon hard at work, and he was certain that all the others must work equally hard." And the overseer was already stalking across the rows, whip in hand. Ball put his head down and kept his hoe moving, trying to keep up with Simon's furious pace.

By the time he reached the end of the first row, Charles Ball had been exposed to crucial differences between the forms of enslaved labor demanded in Maryland and the new ones on the cotton frontier. Survivors identified these differences not as idiosyncrasies, but as a new system of enslaved labor. Most forced migrants had been brought up working according to the rules of one of two southeastern regimes. In some regions, a "task" system had prevailed, as in the South Carolina and Georgia "low country." In those rice swamps, each day enslavers assigned each worker a specific job. Custom fixed the volume of each daily piece of labor, so that a man knew that on a day when he had to chop weeds, his "task" was to cultivate an acre of rice and no more. As historians have pointed out, a long history of "negotiations" between masters' power and the cunning of the enslaved had created the task system. It contained benefits for both left hand and right. Those who finished early could tend their own gardens, help others to work, or simply relax for an hour or two. Without direct supervision, forced labor was usually inefficient, but tasking relieved enslavers of this dilemma by offering diligent slaves an incentive: free time. No wonder owners who tried to increase customary tasking levels and limit free time faced direct or covert resistance.

Yet most enslaved migrants marched to places like Congaree did not come from the low country. They came from the greater Chesapeake of Virginia, Maryland, and their North Carolina and Kentucky offshoots. A watercolor sketch made in 1798 by Benjamin Latrobe, designer of the US Capitol, shows the prevalent form of labor on Chesapeake tobacco farms. A white overseer stands on a stump, a pipe in his mouth and his whip under his arm, supervising a "gang" of enslaved women as they cultivate tobacco plants. This gang system relied on direct surveillance of labor, but by whom? Tobacco planters often grew their crop on many small and widely scattered plots of land. They had to coordinate complex operations carried out by small groups. Most had no choice but to delegate surveillance to black drivers who led labor crews outside of direct white observation. And while enslavers in the Chesapeake pushed slaves to carry out their field work quickly, drivers had their own incentives.

Workers moved across Chesapeake fields in ragged disorder set by divergent individual paces, not ranks formed up in lockstep like the ones that marched that July morning at Congaree. history student knows, is the cotton gin. It allowed enslavers to clean as much cotton for market as they could grow and harvest. As far as most historians have been concerned, the gin is where the study of innovation in the production of cotton ends—at least until the invention of the mechanical cotton picker in the 1930s, which ended the sharecropping regime. But here is the question historians should have asked: Once enslavers had the cotton gin, how then did enslavers produce (or have produced,

by other hands) as much as the gin could clean? For once the gin shattered the processing bottleneck, other limits on production and expansion were cast into new relief. For instance, one constraint was the amount of cheap, fertile land. Another was the lack of labor on the frontier. So enslaver-generals took land from Indians, enslaver-politicians convinced Congress to let slavery expand, and enslaver-entrepreneurs created new ways to finance and transport and commodify "hands."

And, given a finite number of captives in their own control, entrepreneurs created a complex of labor control practices that enslaved people called "the pushing system." This system increased the number of acres each captive was supposed to cultivate. As of 1805, enslavers like Hampton figured that each "hand" could tend and keep free of weeds five acres of cotton per year. Half a century later, that rule of thumb had increased to ten acres "to the hand." In the first minute of labor Charles Ball had encountered one of the pushing system's tactics, in which overseers usually chose captains like Simon to "carry the fore row" and set the pace.

We do not know who invented the pushing system. But it was already present when Charles Ball got to Congaree in 1805. And slavery's entrepreneurs carried it west and south, sharing it as they went, like Johnny Cottonseed. "You find the Virginian upon Red River, you find the North Carolina man, the South Carolina man, the man from Georgia, alongside of him," wrote one enslaver about the new neighborhoods in which greenhorns from tobacco or rice regions learned from their peers how to extract the maximum number of acres from each hand. On early-summer visits to town, migrant entrepreneurs began their street-corner conversations by asking "Well, how does your cotton look?" Thus, wrote another migrant planter, "any increased quantity of product, by any new course of cultivation, spreads like the fire of the American prairie"—all the way up to ten acres to the hand.

Enslavers shared innovations because the world cotton market was an example of what economists call perfect competition. In fact, it was the example—it was used later in the nineteenth century as the archetype in which the great British economist Alfred Marshall discovered the famous concepts of supply-and-demand curves. The market was so big that no individual producer could control even 1 percent of the total. This meant that individual producers had no reason to hoard innovations in the extraction of labor from neighbors, for a neighbor's increase in production did not change the price the innovator received by a visible amount. Enslavers also had a vested interest in the ability of their neighbors to suppress their own slaves' resistance. So planterentrepreneurs readily shared their labor-control innovations: "The intercourse of experience," wrote one enslaver, is the "solder" of slaveholders' communities, in which "every individual is bound not only by his duties to others, but by his own interests, to extend and nourish this useful interchange of systems."12

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Baptist, Edward E. *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism*. New York: Basic Books, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Edward E. Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism* (Basic Books, 2014), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.47

The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America

Joshua D. Rothman

SELECTION	SSOLUTIONS, 1833-1837
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 25–26 · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2021.

Excerpt

would "give the highest cash price for Likely Negroes, from 10 to 25 years of age.""° Franklin, Armfield, and Ballard were not disbanding their company. They still owned the Forks of the Road facility, and they managed the buildings and took in rent from slave traders there. They agreed to sell the Duke Street compound to George Kephart, but the sale would not be legally completed for years. They held hundreds of thousands of dollars in customer debt that they needed to work together to collect, and they kept money in the slave trade too. In the summer of 1836, for example, Ballard Franklin and Company extended a $40,000 line of credit to Ballard's Richmond colleague, slave trader and jailor Bacon Tait, and Tait's partner Thomas Boudar, which Tait and Boudar drew on to buy enslaved people in Virginia and ship them to New Orleans." But by the fall of 1836 the partners had stopped buying enslaved people themselves, and by the spring of 1837 they were mostly out of the daily business of slave trading.

Over the course of nearly nine years operating their company, they shipped enslaved people from the Chesapeake to the lower South at least sixty-eight times. They rented space on ships belonging to other people twenty-two times, chartered entire vessels nine times, and sent company-owned brigs with enslaved people on thirty-seven voyages. Manifests or other reliable accounts survive for about 80 percent of the shipments. They document 3,426 people sent directly to Isaac Franklin or Rice Ballard, 2,010 people sent by John Armfield or Robert Windsor to other merchants, slaveholders, and slave traders, and 719 people sent by other shippers on vessels the company chartered or on the Tribune, the Uncas, and the Isaac Franklin."* The partners also organized a coffle near the end of every summer between 1829 and 1835, and perhaps in 1828 and 1836 as well. Documentation of how many enslaved people they walked overland is sparse, and the 458 people whose passage can be demonstrated substantiate that the partners bought, moved, and sold more than 6,600 men, women, and children.

A conservative estimate accounting for missing ship manifests and coffles would place the figure somewhere in the range of 8,500 people. Including the numbers of people the partners probably dealt in before they began working together, Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and Rice Ballard bore direct responsibility for the forced displacement and sale of well over 10,000 human beings during their careers in the slave trade. No other traders of their era came close. Notarial records show that Isaac Franklin, his nephew James Franklin, and company agents sold 1,625 enslaved people in the city of New Orleans. They effectively sold what was probably a similar number of people to buyers who took possession of the enslaved at the levee and who would have recorded their ownership with a notary only if they chose to or when they transferred ownership to someone else. Franklin, Armfield, and Ballard dealt most of the other enslaved people they brought to the lower South in Natchez. Slaveholders throughout Mississippi and northern Louisiana kept evidence of purchases made there in their private papers. A smattering of that evidence has survived.

Most of it has been lost or destroyed over time, and along with it proof of the ultimate destinies of thousands of Black people. In a way, the partners' retreat from the slave trade came at a bad time. 'The federal government sold more public land in Mississippi in 1835 than it had sold in the entire country a few years earlier. Cotton production kept increasing by tens of thousands of bales annually, and average market prices between 1834 and 1836 still stayed higher than they had been in a decade. Banks in the region kept churning out banknotes and loans to capitalize on the growth, and they fueled it further. Rampant speculation and skyrocketing prices ensued for nearly everything, including and especially for enslaved people, who would bring more land into cultivation and make more cotton and justify more loans. For slave traders, there

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothman, Joshua D. *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America*. New York: Basic Books, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Joshua D. Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America* (Basic Books, 2021), 25–26.

Shortened citation:

Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain*, 25–26.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.48

Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South

Michael Tadman

SELECTION	The Scale of Negro Speculation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 19–20 · Supplied edition: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Excerpt

ie iiiiiii tisements, travel accounts, and the like. Besides, there is the persistent natural increase of the old-established slave states; as Pinckney observed, Virginia by 1787 already had "more slaves than she wanted." Added to that is the temptation of greatly higher slave prices in states such as Georgia and Louisiana, compared with Virginia and certain of her near neighbors. But the documentation generated by the domestic traffic of this period was relatively unspectacular compared with the African trade; there is no equivalent to the shipping and port statistics of the latter. Perhaps all we can do for the present is to point to the possibility of a substantial pre-1808 domestic slave traffic. The fact that from 1787 to 1798 only Georgia of the southern states permitted African importations might well have encouraged the domestic trade. Even South Carolinas maverick policy of reopening the African trade from 1803 to 1807 seems not to have greatly affected the numbers for 1787 to 1807 as a whole. African importations, it appears, accounted for rather fewer than half of the 200,000 slaves that were shifted into Georgia and the net importing states. 19 When we look beyond 1807 and to the 1810s we begin to move to somewhat safer ground. In about 1808, a traveller in Virginia reported that "the Carolina Slave dealers get frequent supplies from this state, particularly from the eastern shore." And in the same year Christian Shultz observed traders with a shipload of blacks on their "slow voyage up river to Natchez." Two years later, William Rochel was advertising in the Natchez Weekly Chronicle, I have upwards of twenty likely Virginia born slaves now in a flat boat lying in the river at Natchez, for sale cheaper than has been sold here for years.

And, leafing through various Virginia newspapers for 1810, Frederic Bancroft found, for example, that "several regular traders had appeared at Fredericksburg" and, like a certain John Stannard, were announcing "I WILL GIVE CASH for a few LIKELY YOUNG NEGROES." (The significance of cash purchases, as we Shall see in a later chapter, was crucial.) In 1812, Hezekiah Niles in his Weekly Register (Baltimore) informed his readers that | If there is anything that ought to be supremely hated,—it is the present infamous traffic that is carried on in several of the middle states, and especially Maryland, in negroes, for the Georgia and Louisiana markets. I blush for the honor and art of printing when | see advertisements published in the newspapers openly avowing the trade, and soliciting business, with the indifference of dealers in horses.!!

Jesse Torrey, from his interviews and investigations into the trade, in 1815 gave a picture of a trading system which had already established long and to him repellent traditions. While visiting the District of Columbia he observed "a procession of men, women, and children, resembling that of a funeral.... They were [slaves] bound together in pairs, some with ropes, and some with iron chains," who were being driven by traders to Georgia. He found the trade with Georgia to be so firmly established that "in the middle states, the general title applied to slave traders, indiscriminately, is Georgia-men." And slaves were well versed in the dangers of the trade. "It is," he wrote a frequent custom in the District of Columbia, Maryland, and Delaware, for masters to endeavor to reform their bad slaves, by terrifying them with threats of selling them for the Georgia market, or 'to Carolina' them; which is often carried into effect.

As to the extent of the District of Columbia's trade, he wrote, I then supposed the instances of the streets of the city consecrated to freedom, being paraded with people led in captivity, were rare. But I soon ascertained that they were quite frequent, that several hundred people, including not legal slaves only, but many kidnapped freemen and youths bound to service for a term of years... are annually collected at Washington (as if it were an emporium of slavery), for

transportation to the slave regions.

At about the same time, John Randolph, who had once defended the African trade, bitterly condemned the District of Columbia' involvement in the interregional slaving business. He was "mortified" that slaves were being herded through the capital city "incarcerated and chained down, and thence driven in fetters like beasts," their families rent asunder, all for the gratification of hardhearted masters and traders.!2

Author's Notes

10. See Kulikoff, "Uprooted Peoples," esp. p. 148. On prices, see Appendix 7 (Figure A7.1), and see also, for example, comments in Paul F. Lachance, "The Politics of Fear: French Louisianians and the Slave Trade, 1786-1809," Plantation Societies, 1(1979), esp. pp. 185-86. For statistics on importations from 1787 to 1807, see Appendix 1. On African slave trade prohibitions see, for example, Phillips, American Negro Slavery, pp. 132-49. of selling them for the Georgia market, or 'to Carolina' them; which is often carried into effect. I then supposed the instances of the streets of the city consecrated to freedom, that they were quite frequent, that several hundred people, including not legal term of years... are annually collected at Washington (as if it were an emporium of slavery), for transportation to the slave regions. traders.

11. Phillips, Documentary History, vol. 2, p. 55; Shultz quoted in Joe Gray Taylor, Negro Slavery in Louisiana (Baton Rouge, 1963), p. 36; Rochel quoted in Charles S. Sydnor, Slavery in Mississippi (New York, 1933), p. 147; Bancroft, Slave Trading, p. 24; Niles' Weekly Register, 19 July 1812, p. 323.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tadman, Michael. *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Michael Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South* (University of Wisconsin Press, 1989), 19–20.

Shortened citation:

Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves*, 19–20.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.49

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

SELECTION	SIX: "That 'Oman Took Delight in Sellin' Slaves"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 134–135 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

Bills of sale also reveal that slave traders throughout the South bought slaves from and sold slaves to women on a regular basis. On December 16, 1845, Harriet A. Heath purchased a twenty- three- year- old enslaved woman named Jane from Ziba Oakes, and on July 8, 1846, she came back to him for another purchase. This time she bought a twenty- eight- year- old enslaved woman named Dianna who was "warranted sound and healthy."[36] Elihu Creswell bought a slave from Marie Carraby; Miss Eleanor Hainline bought a slave from George Ann Botts, John Hagan sold a slave to Mrs. Mathilda Mascey; Margaret Flood sold a slave to John Rucker White; and William Talbott sold a slave to Mrs. Louise Marie Eugenie Bailly Blachard.[37] It is not clear whether these women went to their local slave market to buy or sell their slaves, but they certainly negotiated directly with slave traders and dealers and fi nalized the transactions with them.

Slave traders' account books and ledgers offer further evidence of transactions with women. The slave- trading partners Tyre Glen and Isaac Jarratt sold enslaved people to Clarissa H. Mabson, Elizabeth Nobles, and Nancy Capehart and bought one from Sally M. Craw. Between 1849 and 1859, John White bought and sold enslaved people to women on at least forty- eight occasions, and he recorded seven additional sales without dates. Several of White's transactions are worthy of note. In 1849, Madame Mollere bought fi ve enslaved people— three women, one man, and one of unspecifi ed sex—from White. She purchased another enslaved woman the following year. Three other women, Mrs. A. Cross, Mrs. Newman, and Mademoiselle Bersije, also bought enslaved women from White that year. While White's female customers overwhelmingly bought enslaved girls and women from him, some, especially those engaged in sugarcane cultivation and processing, spent their money on enslaved men. In September 1852, Madame Burke of Lafourche Parish bought two enslaved young men, a twenty- year- old named Jack Barnet and a seventeen- year- old named Wiley Shields, from White for twelve hundred dollars each. He made a thousand- dollar profi t. All together, at least thirty- fi ve women bought enslaved people from him.[38]

White women were not anomalies at local slave auctions, either, and no group could testify more powerfully to white women's presence at and involvement in slave auctions than the enslaved people who were there. Formerly enslaved people remembered these women as astute, sophisticated, and calculating slave- market consumers. One formerly enslaved person remembered several white women at the public sale of a mixed- race woman; when the woman was placed on the auction block, the white women in the crowd exclaimed, "I don't want that mulatto bitch here." It was common for white men to purchase mixed- race women as part of the "fancy trade," a sector of the slave trade that catered almost exclusively to white men who sought to purchase sexual slaves. The white women who objected to the sale of this mixed- race enslaved woman probably knew this.[39]

The women present at this auction seemed to be spectators rather than buyers, but enslaved people also described women who actively participated in the bidding at other auctions. When B. E. Rogers asked his formerly enslaved father whether he had ever seen a slave auction, he replied, "Yes, I saw one at Raleigh once. About half a dozen Negroes being sold, mostly to women." Liza Larkin bought Ank Bishop's mother at a slave auction in Coke's Chapel, and in acquiring an enslaved woman of childbearing age who could perform household tasks, she made an economically sound choice. Bishop's mother cooked, washed, and milked Larkin's cows. She also gave birth to Ank and fi ve other children, and with each infant, Larkin watched her initial investment increase.

Occasionally formerly enslaved people also spoke of their female owners' unique slave- market selection processes and buying habits. Ike Thomas's owners sold his parents away from him when he was a child, but his mistress kept him so she could train him to be a carriage boy. As Ike spoke of his life on the Thomas plantation, he refl ected upon his mistress's distinct way of determining which slave boys would be suitable for purchase. She paid particular attention to the way they wore their hats. If the enslaved boys set their hats "on the back of their heads," she believed that they would grow up to be "'high- minded,' but if they pulled them over their eyes, they'd grow up to be 'sneaky and steal.'" When Rose Russell's mistress decided to sell her, she asked Russell which of her parents she loved the most. Russell contemplated the question for a few moments before saying she felt the most love for her father. The mistress sold Russell with her father and separated the young girl from her mother.

Author's Notes

36. Bill of sale from Ziba Oakes to Harriet A. Heath, December 16, 1845, vol.: 006A, Page: 00515, and July 8, 1846, vol.: 006B, Page: 00082, Series: S213050, SCDAH.

37. Act of Sale, Marie Aimee Carraby to Elihu Creswell, Recorded before Theodore Stark, July 25, 1850, Act of Sale, George Ann Botts to Miss Eleanor Hainline, Recorded before Stuart Lewis, November 11, 1850, Act of Sale, John Hagan to Mrs. Mathilda Mascey, Recorded before Theodore Guyol, February 19, 1850, Act of Sale, Margaret Flood to John Rucker White, Recorded before Theodore Stark, May 17, 1850, Act of Sale, William Talbott to Mrs. Louise Marie Eugenie Bailly Blachard, Recorded before Adolphe Boudousquie, November 28, 1850, Annual Conveyance Vendor and Vendee Indexes, New Orleans Conveyance Records Offi ce, New Orleans Notarial Archives, New Orleans, Louisiana. Hereafter cited as NONA.

38. Tyre Glen Slave Trade Account Books for January 1, 1830–December 31, 1833, and January 1, 1834–December 31, 1853, Tyre Glen Papers, Manuscript Department, Duke University Library, Duke University, Durham, North Carolina, RASP; Isaac Jarratt Slave Trade Account Book for January 1, 1832–December 31, 1881, Jarratt- Puryear Family Papers, 1807–1865, Manuscript Department, Duke University Library, Duke University, RASP; John White Account Book, R.B. Chinn Collection, Missouri History Museum Archives, Saint Louis.

39. Interview with unidentifi ed formerly enslaved person in Unwritten History of Slavery,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones-Rogers, Stephanie E. *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2019.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South* (Yale University Press, 2019), 134–135.

Shortened citation:

Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property*, 134–135.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.50

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 86–87 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

86 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll observers encountered the city as financial center, global market hub, and export-processing zone, a city where the pathways ultimately followed by goods and people were presaged in paper: circuits of credit and capital.[42]

The repatterning of the global economy—American cotton, British cap ital—was daily made material in the shape of human beings, lined up along the walls of the slave pens, available for inspection. At the epicenter of the Mississippi Valley economy was the city's slave market, the largest in the South. The emergence of the city of New Orleans and of the river trade that sustained it depended on the forcible relocation of as many as one million enslaved people from the declining agricultural regions of slavery's Upper- South heartland (especially Maryland and Virginia) to the emerging regions of the Lower-South cotton boom (Georgia, Alabama, Mississippi, Louisiana).[43]

During the trading season, thousands of people were daily put up for sale in the slave traders' high-walled "pens"—as many as twenty separate establishments during the peak years of the slave trade, in the 1830s and 1850s. Dressed in blue suits and calico dresses, turned out in front of the pens lining Gravier and Baronne streets in the city's business district, and Chartres and Esplanade just downriver from the French Quarter, these slaves embodied the future of their buyers and the region as a whole: their labor converted the forests of the Mississippi Valley into the cleared fields of the Cotton Kingdom; their reproduction transfigured their flesh and their families into their owners' legacies— white families made, over time, out of the broken pieces of black ones; their domestic service covered over the barbarism of slavery with the social forms of civilization. The commercial civilization of the nineteenth century, the pathways of supposed progress that stretched upriver from New Orleans and out across the broad alluvial plain of the Mississippi Valley (or, for that matter, from the cotton fields of Louisiana to the looms in Lancashire), was enunciated in the labor of its slaves.[44]

In addition to their labor (and that of hundreds of thousands of others who were sold in the smaller slave markets of the Mississippi Valley—at Donaldsonville, Clinton, and East Baton Rouge in Louisiana; at Natchez, Vicksburg, and Jackson in Mississippi; at every roadside tavern, county courthouse, and crossroads across the Lower South), the slaves sold in New Orleans represented a congealed form of the capital upon which the commercial devel opment of the Valley depended.

Because, according to the ethical and legal The Steamboat Sublime 87 lllllllllllllllllllllll norms of slaveholding civilization, enslaved people were more partible than land, because there was a ready spot market in human beings in every Southern city on every day of the week, and because they could be moved from place to place depending on the disposition of a lawsuit or the division of an estate, enslaved people represented a primary form of collateral in the credit- based economy of the Mississippi Valley.[45] The cords of credit and debt—of advance and obligation—that cinched the Atlantic economy together were anchored with the mutually defining values of land and slaves: without land and slaves, there was no credit, and without slaves, land itself was valueless. Promises made in the Mississippi Valley were backed by the value of slaves and fulfilled in their labor. If the dollar was the universal equivalent of the steamboat world, as often as not its value turned out to be backed by flesh rather than gold.

The commercial geography of capitalism and slavery in the Cotton Kingdom was shaped in dialectical interchange with the ecology of the Mississippi Valley. All told, there were something like 17,000 miles of steamboat-navigable river connecting New Orleans to the settlements, village, towns, and cities in the heartland of North America. As the

steamboat economy spread upward along inland rivers and streams, it pushed the increasingly archaic upriver economy of the keelboats farther and farther back along the Mississippi's tributary streams, until keelboats serviced only the most remote capillaries of Valley commerce. Somewhere around 1840, however, the steamboat economy reached its physical limit: the point along each of these thousands of waterways beyond which the water was too shallow or the channel too narrow for a steamboat to pass. "No form of inland transportation," the historian Louis Hunter wrote, "has been more bounded by geographic limitations than the river steamboat."[46]

Author's Notes

42. Buckingham, Slave States of America, vol. 1, 331 (see also 352–358); Cunynghame, A Glimpse of the Great Western Republic, 220; Hamilton, Men and Manners in America, vol. 2, 201–216; Baird, View of the Valley of the Mississippi, 262–268; Charles Lyell, A Second Visit to the United States of North America (London: J. Murray, 1849), vol. 2, 159–164.

43. Frederic Bancroft, Slave Trading in the Old South (Baltimore: J. H. Furst, 1931); Michael Tadman, Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989); Walter Johnson, Soul by Soul: Life Inside 506 lllllllllllllllllllllll T. Takaki, A Pro-slavery Crusade: The Agitation to Reopen the African Slave Trade (New York: Free Press, 1971); David M. Potter, The Impending Crisis, 1848–1861 (New York: Harper and Row, 1976), 385–404; and Manisha Sinha, The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000), 125–186.

44. Johnson, Soul by Soul, 2–3, passim.

45. Richard H. Kilbourne, Jr., Debt, Investment, and Slaves: Credit Relations in East Feliciana Parish, Louisiana (Tuscaloosa: University of Alabama Press, 1995).

46. Hunter, Steamboats on the Western Rivers, 216–218; Kane, The Western River Steamboat, 10, 24–26.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013), 86–87.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 86–87.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.51

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	E PILOGUE : S OUTHERN HI S T ORY AND THE S LAVE TRADE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 217–218 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

For all of the smoothing over and covering up that characterized their daily activities, the slave pens provided a remarkably clear exposi tion of the nature of slavery-a person with a price. There were, of course, other available definitions, other answers to the question "What is slavery?"answers that emphasized production or paternalism or poli tics or violence. And there were other places to go to see slavery: plantations where the slave mode of production was visible in the fields; white churches and universities across the South where the spiritual and moral benefits of slavery were floridly proclaimed; northern and Euro pean cotton-finishing factories where the full reach of "the slave econ omy" was daily evident; the halls of Congress where the influence of the "Slave Power" was tallied in a series of compromises between "North" and "South" which outlined the political history of the ante bellum period. Increasingly, however, and with revolutionary effect, opponents of slavery argued that slavery was best seen in the slave market.

It had not always been so. The central document of early abolition ism, Theodore Dwight Weld's American Slavery As It Is (1839), had very little to say about the slave market. It was, instead, a catalog of bodily tortures. Drawing upon southern newspapers and runaway advertise ments which sought to identify escaped slaves by their mortifying injuries, Weld was able to draw back the veil that protected "the pecu liar institution" from critical eyes. Slavery for Weld was a system of unchecked brutality, made grotesquely visible on the suffering bodies of the slaves.[6] Even today, in an age inured to violence by movie-made brutality, American Slavery As It Is is hard to read. And yet nineteenth century slaveholders were quick to develop an answer to this critique of slavery's inhumane brutality. The maimings and the rapes were isolated episodes, they argued, and they set about publicizing the "paternalist" reforms that would restore to the system of slavery its good name. They broke the system of slavery into hundreds of thousands of isolated sets of human relations between individual masters and individual slaves and argued that the violence of slavery was a matter of generally benevolent human relations gone awry, of the personal failings of particular owners, of bad masters who gave slavery a bad name, not an inevitable feature of the system itself.

Thinking about the slave trade, however, made possible an entirely different account of the relation between master and slave. J. W. C. Pennington described his motivation for writing his narrative of slavery this way: "My feelings are always outraged when I hear them speak of 'kind masters,' 'Christian masters,' 'the mildest form of slavery, 'well fed and well clothed slaves' as extenuations of slavery." Pennington did not deny that such things existed, but he thought that they were misleading forms taken by a more fundamental relation: "The being of slavery, its soul and its body, lives and moves in the chattel principle, the property principle, the bill of sale principle; the cart-whip, starvation, and naked ness, are its inevitable consequences," he wrote. Sale from a good master to a bad one, from the "mildest form of slavery" to the "worst of which the system is possible," from the "favorable circumstances" of slavery in Maryland, Virginia, and Kentucky to the killing fields of Alabama, Mississippi, and Louisiana was, in Pennington's formulation, "the legitimate working of the great chattel principle." "It is no acci dental result," he continued, "it is the fruit of the tree. You cannot constitute slavery without the chattel principle-and with the chattel principle you cannot save it from these results. Talk not about kind and Christian masters. They are not masters of the system. The system is master of them."7 Through an outline of the philosophy and practice of the slave trade, Pennington was able to convey the complicity of all slaveholders (no matter their individual merits) in the most brutal results of the system of slavery.

Author's Notes

6. Theodore Dwight Weld, American Slavery as It Is: Testimony of a Thousand Witnesses (New York: American Anti-Slavery Society, I 839). For this strain of antislavery thinking, see Elizabeth B. Clark, "'The Sacred Rights of the Weak': Pain, Sympathy, and the Culture of Individual Rights in Antebellum America," Journal of American History, 82 (I99S), 463-493; for the abolitionist investment in slaves' mortified bodies, see Saidiya V. Hartman, Scenes of Subjection: Terror, Slavery, and Self-Making in the Nineteenth-Century America (New York: Oxford University Press, I997).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Harvard University Press, 1999), 217–218.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *Soul by Soul*, 217–218.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.52

Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic

Erskine Clarke

SELECTION	Princeton
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 88–89 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

Charles struggled to find some reasonable, middle path that was in “the best interests of the coloured population and that at the same time could receive the approbation of the whites.” Without such a way he would be left with the freedom of a terrible choice —of deciding either for his Christian duty or for the home he loved. What was equally troubling for him was the possibility that his struggle was simply a “disinclination” of his own will to decide for his Christian duty—a disinclination rooted in sin, in his own self-love.

Charles turned his attention for a while to the American Colonization Society as a means of addressing slavery in the United States. It seemed such a glori¬ ous scheme, so full of reason and goodwill. The black population of the country would simply be sent back to West Africa, where a “civilized and Christianized republic” could be established in Liberia. There the former slaves could form a powerful republic to suppress the slave trade, open trade with the nations in the interior of Africa, and send from among their numbers missionaries and teach¬ ers to reclaim their African brothers and sisters from “their heathenish condi¬ tion.” Charles thought it “a noble design!”1[8] And it was noble indeed — unless, of course, you were a slave who wanted freedom in the United States rather than a one-way trip to Liberia, or a white planter who had no desire to lose slave labor. And that was the rub —the scheme carried with it a deep racism that was be¬ ginning to be denounced, and it reflected a profound economic and political naivete.

By the middle of May 1830, with graduation from Princeton looming, Charles felt the pressure building for some decision. He was, he wrote Mary, “uncertain that I should make Georgia my home.” He reminded her, “I have always been deeply interested for the Coloured population in slavery in the United States. How it has long been a doubt in my mind whether I ought to return to Geor¬ gia and endeavor to do what I can for them there, and also where as God shall give me opportunity, or devote myself at once to them, in some special efforts in connection with the Colonization Society, or in some other manner.” He did not know, he said, “which way the scale will turn,” and he prayed “for light from on high to shine and make the path of duty plain before my face.” One thing he was certain of—it was “high time that our country was taking some measures of some sort whose ultimate tendency shall be the emancipation of nearly three million of men, women, and children who are held in the grossest bondage, and with the highest injustice.”19 Perhaps he was thinking of those who worked the fields at the Retreat or ate by the evening fires of Carlawter.

Author's Notes

8. PRINCETON

16. CCJ to MJ, 3 February 1830, JTU.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clarke, Erskine. *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Erskine Clarke, *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic* (Yale University Press, 2005), 88–89.

Shortened citation:

Clarke, *Dwelling Place*, 88–89.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.53

Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves

Ira Berlin

SELECTION	prologue : slaveryandfreedom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 7–8 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

The division between the enslaved many and the free few increased during the nineteenth century as members of the migration generations were propelled from the southern seaboard across the continent. Their divided history—as tens of thousands went south to construct a new slave society in the southern interior and hundreds fled north to create a free one—set the stage for the Great Jubilee and the emergence of the freedom generations.

Tracing the generations of African and African-American captivity across the centuries requires sensitivity to place as well as time. The geography of slave life changed with its history. Whereas the charter generations' history can be understood by viewing slavery from Dutch New Netherland, English Chesapeake, French Louisiana, and Spanish Florida, changes in American society—mostly in the eighteenth century—require that the plantation and revolutionary generations be viewed on a larger canvas: the North, the Chesapeake, lowcountry South Carolina and Georgia, and the lower Mississippi Valley. The westward expansion of the United States in the nineteenth century necessitates yet another geography of slavery. The migration generations are divided not merely north and south but between the old seaboard South and the new southern interior. As with many other aspects of American life, the Civil War created— perhaps for the first time—a common African-American experience.

Each chapter of Generations of Captivity begins with the region that best exemplifies the generational experience. Thus, "Charter Generations" (chapter 1) starts with black life in Dutch New Netherland (present-day New York), not because of any chronological primacy in the history of European and African settlement in mainland North America but because the character of the charter generations was most fully evident in seventeenth-century New Netherland. For like reasons, "Plantation Generations" (chapter 2) begins with the tobacco revolution in the Chesapeake, "Revolutionary Generations" (chapter 3) with emancipations in the northern states, and "Migration Generations" (chapter 4) with the cotton and sugar revolutions in the southern interior. By beginning where change was most evident and then inspecting various permutations, each chapter elaborates how the very same processes—initial settlement, the advent of generationsofcaptivity staple production, social revolution, forced migration, and civil war—followed a different course in different places; hence the use of the plural when discussing the various "generations" of people of African descent.

This complex matrix of space and time suggests that the idea of "generation" might be both too precise and too diffuse, as generations overlap in ways that militate against sharp boundaries. Slave children could no more escape the experience of their parents than they could deny that of their own children. Thus, the lives of the charter generations impinged on those of the plantation generations, just as the memories of the plantation generations echoed in the revolutionary generations, or the ideas of the migration generations invaded those of the freedom generations. But exploring these connections—the instinctive imitations, conscious reproductions, or determined repudiations—has some advantages. Such generational linkages expose the crooked path whereby slave life changed over the course of nearly three centuries. Slaves were different people in 1650 than they would be in 1750 or 1850, but they always carried something of their forebears into the future. Like all history, the generational experiences could be recalled, reformulated, or reconstructed to suit contemporary needs. In the 1770s, members of the revolutionary generations instituted freedom suits on the basis of the charter generations' mixed ancestry. Members of the freedom generation recalled the promises made during the revolutionary years. No understanding of slavery can ignore the force of change or the ability of men and women to reconstruct the past in their own image.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Berlin, Ira. *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Ira Berlin, *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003), 7–8.

Shortened citation:

Berlin, *Generations of Captivity*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.54

Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America

Ira Berlin

SELECTION	Prologue: Making Slavery, Making Race
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998.

Excerpt

All of which is to say that slavery, though imposed and maintained by violence, was a negotiated relationship. To be sure, the struggle between master and slave never proceeded on the basis of equality and was always informed by the master's near monopoly of force. By definition, slaves had less choice than any other people, as slaveholders set the conditions upon which slaves worked and lived. Indeed, the relation between master and slave was so profoundly asymmetrical that many have concluded that the notion of negotiation—often freighted in our own society with the rhetoric of the level playing field—has no value to the study of slavery. Although the playing field was never level, the master–slave relationship was nevertheless subject to continual negotiation. The failure to recognize the ubiquity of those negotiations derives neither from an overestimation of the power of the master (which was awesome indeed), nor from an underestimation of the power of the slave (which rarely amounted to much), but from a misconstruing of the limitations humanity placed upon both master and slave. For while slaveowners held most of the good cards in this meanest of all contests, slaves held cards of their own. And even when their cards were reduced to near worthlessness, slaves still held that last card, which, as their owners well understood, they might play at any time.

A number of corollaries follow from a recognition that even in slavery's cramped quarters there was room for negotiation. First, even as they confronted one another, master and slave had to concede, however Making Slavery, Making Race 3 grudgingly, a degree of legitimacy to the other. No matter how reluctantly it was given (or, more likely, extracted), such a concession was difficult for either party to acknowledge, for masters presumed their own absolute sovereignty and slaves never relinquished the right to control their own destiny. But no matter how adamant the denials, nearly every interaction of master and slave forced such recognition, for the web of interconnections between master and slave necessitated a coexistence that fostered cooperation as well as contestation.

Second, because the circumstances of such contestation and cooperation continually changed, slavery itself continually changed. The refusal of either party to concede the realities of master–slave relations meant that slavery was intrinsically unstable. No bargain could last for very long, for as power slipped from master to slave and back to master, the terms of slavery would again be renegotiated. Slavery was never made, but instead was continually remade, for power—no matter how great— was never absolute, but always contingent.

Thus, understanding that a person was a slave is not the end of the story but the beginning, for the slaves' history was derived from experiences that differed from place to place and time to time and not from some unchanging transhistorical verity. In some sense, this truism has become a staple of recent histories of all subordinate classes, not only slaves but also servants, serfs, and wage workers. Surely, it would come as no surprise to say that all wage workers at any particular moment had much in common, both in shared experiences and in opposition to their employers; but the lives of steel workers and cigar makers differed, as did their languages, institutions, and relationships with their employers, their fellow workers, and their families. If at times steel workers and cigar makers stood together against their employers on matters of compensation, working conditions, and political allegiance, few would expect their opposition to take precisely the same form. Yet, because slavery was such a powerful, all-encompassing relationship, scholars have often been trans- fixed by the commonalities that slavery produced, by the dynamics of the relationship between master and slave, and by the personality traits this most extreme form of domination appears to have generated.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Berlin, Ira. *Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Ira Berlin, *Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Berlin, *Many Thousands Gone*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.55

The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South

John W. Blassingame

SELECTION	The Americanization of the
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 49–50 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

The Americanization of the Slave and the Africanization of the South Southern whites cannot walk, talk, sing, conceive of laws or justice, think of sex, love, the family or freedom without responding to the presence of the Negroes. Ralph Ellison Much of the debate about American slavery has centered on the question of the extent of the acculturation of the African, how and when he became Americanized. Though few scholars have realized it, the Americanization of the African in the South was a process similar in many ways to the acculturation of slaves in other places where bondsmen, black and white, influenced and were influenced by their enslavers. The key determinants in the acculturation of bondsmen historically have been the length of their servitude, the parallels between their culture and that of their masters, the role of the masters' governmental and religious leaders in protecting, training, and converting the slaves to their faith, and the treatment and labor of the bondsmen. Ignoring most of these factors, historians have been confused about the manner in which the African slave in the South became an American and contributed to his master's culture. One way of clearing up some of the confusion is to compare the acculturation of the Southern bondsmen with that of Africans in Latin America and Europeans and American whites enslaved in Africa.

From the eighth to the nineteenth century hundreds of thousands of Europeans were enslaved by Arabs, Turks, and West AMTCans, HULOpean servitude fO the iviosiems began when s\raDs from North Africa launched their campaign to conquer the Iberian peninsular in 711. After the expulsion of the Arabs from the Iberian peninsular in the fifteenth century, Moslems frequently raided the coasts of Spain, Portugal, Italy, Greece, France, England, Ireland, and Iceland and the islands of Sicily, Sardinia, Corsica, and Cyprus, sacked their towns and carried their inhabitants back to North Africa, where they were enslaved because they were "infidels." Most of the white slaves were Spaniards, Portuguese, and Italians captured during the centuries-long religious wars waged by the Moslems and the Christians in all the lands bordering on the Mediterranean Sea. Thousands more Europeans and Americans, shipwrecked on the North and West African coasts or captured by Arab privateers at sea, were also enslaved. Estimates of the number of whites enslaved range between 500,000 and one million. But since Christians and Moslems representing many nations frequently exchanged slaves, captured and recaptured each other's territory, and carried on a brisk business in ransoms, it is difficult to determine the total number of white slaves in Africa at any given place or time. The best figures we have are for Algiers, where during the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries there were between 25,000 and 40,000 white slaves. Whatever the number of whites enslaved, the primary reason historians are able to document their story was the Arab practice of ransoming Christian bondsmen. Fortunately for scholars, those whites who recovered their freedom often wrote narratives, letters and petitions, and gave interviews and depositions describing their enslavement.'

Terrified by their Arab captors (and fearing they would be eaten by them), whites who were shipwrecked on the North African coast initially suffered greatly from hunger and thirst.

1. Stephen Clissold, The Barbary Slaves (London, 1977), 1-38; Stanley Lane-Poole, The Barbary Corsairs (New York, 1901), 195-225, 235-73; H. G. Barnby, The Prisoners of Algiers (London, 1966), 1-57. It should be noted that the Europeans enslaved thousands of Moslems in the same fashion as the Christians were enslaved.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Blassingame, John W. *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South*. Rev. ed. New York: Oxford University Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

John W. Blassingame, *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South* (Oxford University Press, 1979), 49–50.

Shortened citation:

Blassingame, *The Slave Community*, 49–50.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.56

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

SELECTION	Origins and Consolidation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

But even ethnic distinction was not essential to slavery; sociologist Orlando Patterson has found that in about one-quarter of fifty-seven slaveholding societies he studied, at least some masters and slaves shared the same ethnic identity.

Although slavery has exhibited such extraordinary diversity over time and space that it might seem virtually impossible to generalize about its nature, a particular type of slavery, which exhibited certain common features, emerged in the Western (that is, Europeanderived) world in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. Most prevalent in the New World (the Americas), although it also existed in other areas of European colonization (such as South Africa), this modern Western slavery was a product of European expansion and was preeminently a system of labor. It emerged to meet the per¬ vasive labor shortage that developed wherever landholders tried to grow staple crops—sugar, coffee, tobacco, rice, and later cotton— for market in areas of population scarcity. Spreading slowly at first, it assumed enormous proportions in the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries and helped propel the economic transformation of the leading colonial powers, especially Great Britain.

This new system of bonded labor was distinguished by both its scope and its ethnic composition. It was closely associated with the spread of the plantation as a productive unit ideally suited for the regimentation of agricultural labor and hence the large-scale culti¬ vation of staple crops; although slaves in the Americas served in diverse capacities, New World slavery was preeminently geared to such commercial agriculture. The Southern United States repre¬ sented the northernmost outpost of this plantation system, which reached its apogee of organizational development on the large sugar estates of Jamaica, Saint Domingue (later called Haiti), Cuba, and other Caribbean colonies. Equally important was the new ethnic composition of modern Western slavery: despite some exceptions —a small although by no means negligible number of Indian slaves, a smaller number of Indian and black slave owners—most slaves were Africans and their descendants, whereas most masters were Europeans and their descendants. This ethnic contrast did not totally define the character of New World slavery, for diverse conditions and traditions fostered major variations among slave societies in both slavery and race relations; the very understanding of the terms “white” and “black,” for example, differed in Brazil, Jamaica, Lou¬ isiana, and Virginia. Nevertheless, at both the global and the in¬ dividual level, the racial character of New World slavery was significant: that slavery was predicated on new, unequal relation¬ ships between Europe and Africa and between white and black.

Whatever the variations among New World slave societies, their orientation around commercial agriculture gave them an essential unity and made them part of an economic order. Slaves were brought to the Americas for their ability to work; slavery there constituted, first and foremost, a system of labor. As such, it had more in common with the serfdom that was emerging in Russia and some other parts of Eastern Europe than with many of the pre-modern slaveries men¬ tioned above. It is within the context of this modern Western slavery that the development of American slavery is best understood.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kolchin, Peter. *American Slavery, 1619-1877*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Peter Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877* (Hill and Wang, 1993), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.57

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

This project builds on these histories of the relationships between space, social relations, gender, and power in the Old South. It gives less attention than other studies to the built environment and more to the peopling of plantation space—to the containment and movement of enslaved women and men. It argues that the broad operation of politics in the Old South was profoundly invested in black and white uses of space. Space mattered: places, boundaries, and movement were central to how slavery was organized and to how it was resisted. This project explores planters' attempts to confine slave activity to specific places, the ways enslaved women evaded that captivity, and the perpetual conflicts that arose as a result of these di√ering ideas about how space was to be used. Geography has provided both a way of seeing new aspects of enslaved women's lives and the language to describe those sights.

By the antebellum period (beginning around 1830) laws, customs, and ideals had come together into a systematic constriction of slave movement that helped establish slaveholders' sense of mastery. Planters presided over controlled and controlling landscapes dictating the movements of their slaves into the fields or yards and back to the quarters, with carefully considered breaks and holidays. Morning reveilles, slave patrols, curfews, and laws requiring passes and banning independent travel or meetings were all instituted to limit and control slave movement in both space and time. Enslaved women and men were bound by this "geography of containment," but women in greater numbers and with greater consistency were confined to southern plantations; as a group they enjoyed much less mobility than did men.∞∑

In violation of slaveholders' orders and the state's laws, though, enslaved people left the quarters at night. "Watching every step that they take for the guard or patrol," slaves "venture[d] out" at night to the very woods and swamps that were intended to distinguish legitimate and illicit plantation space.∞∏ "All margins are dangerous," Mary Douglas commented. "If they are pulled this way or that the shape of fundamental experience is altered. Any structure of ideas is vulnerable at its margins."∞π Again and again, enslaved people ran away and created other kinds of spaces that gave them room and time for their families, for rest from work, and for amusement; on occasion, women moved forbidden objects into their quarters to worrisome e√ect. As they moved about, those who had the gift read the sights and sounds of the natural environment—the events of the skies or the squawks of birds—for signs of opportunity or trouble. Others simply looked for the landmarks— distinctive trees and shrubs or outbuildings—that could guide their way along clandestine trails to secret meeting places.

In short, bondpeople created a "rival geography"—alternative ways of knowing and using plantation and southern space that conflicted with planters' ideals and demands. The term "rival geography" was coined by Edward Said and has been used by geographers to describe resistance to colonial occupation.∞∫ I have adapted the term for the slave South, where the challenge for enslaved people was not one of repossession of land in the face of dispossession but of mobility in the face of constraint. Thus the rival geography was not a settled spatial formation, for it included quarters, outbuildings, woods, swamps, and neighboring farms as chance granted them. Where planters' mapping of their farms was defined by fixed places for plantation residents, the rival geography was characterized by motion: the movement of bodies, objects, and information within and around plantation space.∞Ω

The rival geography did not threaten to overthrow American slavery, nor did it provide slaves with autonomous space. Much of the rival geography, such as woods and swamps, was space to which planters and patrols had access,

and other parts, including quarters and outbuildings were places over which they also had a large measure of control. Nor was there anything safe about bondpeople's illicit movements or the temporary spaces they created; to the contrary, these activities and areas were truly dangerous. The rival geography did, however, provide space for private and public creative expression, rest and recreation, alternative communication, and importantly, resistance to planters' domination of slaves' every move.

Just as slave resistance was forged in the conditions of enslavement, it gained some of its significance from that same source. The importance of slave resistance cannot be separated from slaveholders' concerns about social control and plantation e≈ciency and attributed solely to its value to the enslaved. Enslaved people's many forms of resistance were struggles for life without reference to their owners as well as responses to their owners' e√orts to deny them, for instance, access to their families or time alone. It is planters who attest to how much slaves' search for space and time to themselves mattered in their own time; slaveholders' violent actions and their words illustrate the extent to which some slave activities cut them to the quick by challenging their authority and, they feared, by making their plantations less e≈cient. That enslaved people were willing to risk gruesome punishments for the sake of a degree of mobility speaks volumes about its importance to them.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Camp, Stephanie M. H. *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie M. H. Camp, *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2004), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Camp, *Closer to Freedom*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.58

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	S OUL BY S OUL
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 10–11 · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

The narratives' account of slavery was equally shaped by the histori cal conditions of antislavery. Unconnected and sometimes unlettered, ex-slave narrators depended upon white northern abolitionists for their access to editors and publishers, their daily livings as orators, and whatever hope they had of freeing family members who remained in the South. White abolitionists, in turn, forced their own version of antislavery upon those who tried to tell their stories of slavery. "Give us the facts," Frederick Douglass was told, "we will take care of the philosophy." The impact of organized antislavery on the narratives must be considered in any effort to use them to write the history of slavery. As accounts which led up to a known ending-the escape of an individual slave-the narratives rarely enlarge upon the daily life, joys, and travails of enslaved communities. As stories of saved souls, they sometimes ignore the sufferings of enslaved bodies. As vehicles for supplying a moralistic bourgeois audience with the ideal slaves they demanded, the narratives often gloss over the anger, dissimulation, sexuality, and occasional brutality of real slaves' daily lives. As entrants into a rhetorical field dominated by white supremacy, they sometimes reproduce the prejudices of their readers. 23

Though they require careful reading, the nineteenth-century narra tives remain our best source for the history of enslaved people in the slave trade. 24 In what follows I have used three strategies to accomplish the dual task of reading the history of the many in the stories of the few and separating the experience of slavery from the ideology of antislavery.[25] First, I have read the narratives in tandem with sources produced by slaveholders and visitors to the South. Many of the most mundane as well as some of the more incredible aspects of the narrators' ac counts-from descriptions of where slaves slept along the road and what they ate in the pens, to the revelations that some buyers bought slaves as subjects for medical experiments and some slaves shaped their own sales-are supported by other sources. By reading these sources in juxtaposition, I have been able to use them to authenticate as well as interrogate one another.

Second, I have read the narratives for traces of the experience of slavery antecedent to the ideology of antislavery, for the "facts" pro vided by Frederick Douglass without which William Lloyd Garrison could not have fashioned his "philosophy."26 The descriptions of events in the narratives often include telling details which could not be fully contained by the purposes of antislavery editors and amanuenses. Visual descriptions of other slaves, for example, can be read as evidence of the way strangers evaluated one another in the coffles and slave pens.

Likewise, the biographies of other slaves, often presented as a scene setting aside to the narrator's central struggle, can be read as evidence of a history of communal life and collective resistance among slaves in the trade which was largely excised from the narrators' printed ac counts.

Third, I have read the narratives for symbolic truths that stretch beyond the facticity of specific events. Some incidents appear so often that it seems certain they are stock figures drawn from the reading of other narratives rather than from experience. These include the idea that illiterate slaves holding books for the first time would put them next to their ears to hear them talk, or that an escapee seeing a steam boat or train for the first time would run away, thinking it was the devil. But these stock figures have a truth of their own to tell: they gesture at the way the world looked to people whose access to information and technology was limited by their owners and the threat of violence. I have taken the same approach to the disquieting stories of slaves who mutilated themselves to avoid the

trade or women who killed their children to spare them from slavery. -whether or not every one of these stories was true (and we know some were), collectively they tell a truth about people forced by their slavery into a doubled relation with their bodies and their children.

Author's Notes

25. This is not to suggest that the "experience" of slavery existed outside of the cultural, religious, and political terms through which slaves imagined it in the South, only that those terms were not reducible to those promulgated by white dominated antislavery in the North. On "experience" see Joan Scott, "The Evi dence of Experience," Critical Inquiry, 17 (1991), 773-797.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Harvard University Press, 1999), 10–11.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *Soul by Soul*, 10–11.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.59

Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 361–362 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

All these matters before the bench were judged less by abstract principles than by the exigencies of the hour—as perceived locally. How could it have been otherwise? Law is a cultural artifact; the more personal, oral, and small-scale the community in which it is administered, the more certain it is that the law will reflect the neighborhood will.

By this reading, honor was a medium or filter through which specific cases were often decided. As has been stressed throughout this study, local opinion, not individualism in either a modern or a "pioneer" sense, was the dominant force in Southern public life, even in instances of public violence. Naturally, the law had to be interpreted with that in mind. It could sometimes be molded to fit circumstances, in ways that will be demonstrated. Honor was not so tractable. At the moment of its conferment upon an individual or a community, honor alone was absolute and indivisible. Statutory and common law, on the other hand, were subordinated to the needs of the community, and therefore were applied with the utmost severity or indifference, depending upon the consensus of the public. When, perhaps, the law could not be so readily bent without jeopardizing its credibility, then the resort was to community appeals for mercy at the next tribunal—the state executive with its pardoning power. Another, darker and retributive alternative to perceived injustice at law was lynching. Although Blackstone would not have recognized the legitimacy of American mob actions, the general orientation of criminal justice in the Old South would hardly have shocked him. He was the Southern legal profession's patron saint because his Commentaries supported the traditions of a rural, hierarchical society that paid respect to communal feelings.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wyatt-Brown, Bertram. *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 1982), 361–362.

Shortened citation:

Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor*, 361–362.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.60

American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt

Daniel Rasmussen

SELECTION	PROLOGUE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Harper, 2011.

Excerpt

[; 1811, a group of between 200 and 500 enslaved men; dressed in military uniforms and armed with guns, cane knives, and axes rose up from the slave plantations around New Orleans and set out to conquer the city. They decided that they would die before they would work another day of backbreaking labor in the hot Louisiana sun. Ethnically diverse, politically astute, and highly organized, this slave army challenged not only the economic system of plantation agriculture but also the expansion of American authority in the Southwest. Their January march represented the largest act of armed resistance against slavery in the history of the United States—and one of the defining moments in the his- In the cane fields outside of the city, federal troops teamed up with French planters to fight these slave-rebels—an unholy alliance between government power and slave-based agriculture that would come to define the young American nation as a slave country in the years leading up to the Civil War. Over the course of the conflict, these powerful white men committed unspeakable acts of brutality in service of a stronger nation and a more vibrant economy.

Because of that brutality, and because of a shared belief in the importance of a specific form of political and economic development, these government officials and slave owners sought to write this massive uprising out of the history books—to dismiss the bold actions of the slave army as irrelevant and trivial. They succeeded. And in doing so, they laid the groundwork for one of the most remarkable moments of historical amnesia in our national memory. While Nat Turner and John Brown have become household names, Kook and Quamana, Harry Kenner, and Charles Deslondes have barely earned a footnote in American ite tory. Though the 1811 uprising was the largest slave revolt in American history, the longest published scholarly account runs a mere twenty-four pages. This book redresses that silence and tells the story that the planters could not and would not tell—the story of political activity among the enslaved. What follows is the first definitive account of this central moment in our nation's past—a story more Bravebeart than Beloved: an account of the planning, execution, and suppression of a furious uprising,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rasmussen, Daniel. *American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt*. New York: Harper, 2011.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Rasmussen, *American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt* (Harper, 2011), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Rasmussen, *American Uprising*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.61

Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802

Douglas R. Egerton

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1993.

Excerpt

The area around Brookfield plantation, no less a Federalist stronghold than the nearby city, was equal witness to fiery political talk. The political affiliation of either Thomas Prosser is uncertain, but close family friend Patrick Henry, whose dramatic “liberty or death” speech was already famous around the state, won a seat in the Virginia Assembly as a Federalist in the spring of 1799, the year of his decease. Prosser neighbor Mosby Sheppard was undoubtedly a Federalist; in 1798 he contributed money for a “barbecue for John Marshall.” Gabriel knew Sheppard, a moderately prosperous farmer, through two of his slaves, Tom and Pharoah, who were close enough to their master to know his political leanings.

Whether the angry words that Gabriel overheard actually foretold of violence between the agrarian Republican leadership and the urban business community is doubtful. But more than a few radical artisans were ready enough to back their words with muskets. From Gabriel’s limited urban perspective, it appeared that the white mechanics he labored alongside were preparing to do battle in a political cause, and that cause was his as well. It would not be the first time that class would supersede race in a political quarrel; in 1767 a mob of armed blacks and whites battled redcoats in a press riot in Norfolk. Bondmen once more did not intend to stay above the fray, and for one moment in time the Virginia working class stood on the verge of overcoming its crippling internal division of race. “We have as much right to fight for our liberty as any men,” Jack Ditcher told Prosser’s Sam.

The failure of Gabriel was not one of logic; it was one of information. The unusual economic contours of the city masked the complex political realities of the countryside. Unknown to Gabriel, the typical Virginia Republican was not a rebellious craftsman but an agrarian. The important division in the state was not between merchants and artisans but between the rising business class and the slaveholding planters. The egalitarian rhetoric that pledged to make good the promise of the Revolution was aimed only at white males; indeed, aristocrats like Jefferson could more safely preach equality in a slave society than in a free one, for in Virginia the labor problem was solved. The middle-class yeomen had economic and racial ties to the gentry, and the very poor—the blacks—were enslaved.

This Gabriel did not understand. It appears that the Republican planters played no part in his thinking, for he never identified them, or even whites in general, as his enemies. That term was reserved for the “merchants.”

Gabriel’s faith was that white mechanics would see in his own struggle for liberty and economic rights grounds for accepting his support in the upcoming civil war. Had it been as simple as that, he would not have been far wrong. As to one point, he was correct: The hostilities with France and the resulting political upheaval provided him with a rare opportunity. Nervous whites agreed. The “unrighteous, impolitic & distracting [Quasi] war,” wrote Virginian David Meade, “we here think will prove fatal to the Union [and] must bring evils upon the three or four Southern States, more terrific than Volcano’s [or] Earthquakes.”

The undeclared naval war with France was indeed a danger to white control, and not only because it rendered a division among Virginia elites. The political allegiance of the slaves to the Republican party was reinforced by the role that France played in American domestic politics. Since the early 1790s, Republicans had favored France in its contest with Britain, at least in part as southern planters craved the widest possible markets for their export crops. Proponents of liberty—and slaveholding society was full of those who professed to love the common man, so long as the common man was not of African ancestry—also saw the French Revolution as the next chapter in the saga that

had begun in 1776. The rise of the Directory and the Napoleonic coup of 1799 dampened their ardor somewhat. But fears that an English victory in Europe would reduce the United States to a British vassal governed by corrupt "Anglomen" and self-serving Hamiltonian capitalists—bankers and merchants—made it difficult for most Republicans to voice hidden doubts about France. Even after Talleyrand's duplicity became known, John Randolph opened his letters with the Gallic salutation "Dear Citizen."

The ties to revolutionary France were especially strong among the artisans. The Democratic clubs were almost fanatically anti-English and pro- French. As the decade wore on, many artisan societies dubbed themselves Jacobin clubs, in imitation of the radical political groups of Paris; one southern club, in a salute to the community of liberal republics, went so far as to formally apply for membership in the Jacobin club in Paris. (Its application was accepted.) For artisans who were fighting for their economic and political rights at home, France appeared to be the symbol of antiaristocratic resistance.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Egerton, Douglas R. *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Douglas R. Egerton, *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802* (University of North Carolina Press, 1993), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Egerton, *Gabriel's Rebellion*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.62

He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey

Douglas R. Egerton

SELECTION	He Shall Go Out Free5
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 50–51 · Supplied edition: Madison House, 1999.

Excerpt

Whoever was her master, Beck remained married to Denmark long enough, and saw him often enough, to give birth to at least three of his children, and perhaps several more. Sandy Vesey, "a fat black fellow [who] looked very much like Denmark," was almost certainly born before 1800. As a young man, Sandy was the property of John J. Schnell, a grocer who lived at 74 Church Street; Schnell presumably purchased Sandy from John Paul, who was also a gro¬ cer. Even if Denmark did not reside with Sandy, he certainly exerted a great deal of influence over his son. Like his father, Sandy "could read" and write. He would be the only one of Denmark's children to be deeply involved in the 1822 conspiracy. Denmark had at least two other sons, both of them probably Beck's children. One was named Polydore Vesey. The other went by the name of Robert Vesey, who inherited his father's later profession of carpenter and builder.[40]

Whether Beck bore Denmark any other children is unknown. Due to a diet low in protein, nonexistent prenatal care, and long hours of toil until the last moments of pregnancy, the infant mortal¬ ity rate for the enslaved population was a ghastly 350 per thousand births (roughly twice that of white infants). Put another way, ap¬ proximately one in three slave infants did not survive their first year, and over half of all slave children in the United States died before reaching the age of five. Even taking into account the robust health that ran in the Vesey family—Denmark and Robert both survived far beyond the average life expectancy for either black or white males in antebellum America—Beck surely buried at least one of her infants, and probably more.4

The fact that Sandy was literate, and that Robert chose to fol¬ low his father's profession, indicates that Denmark was hardly the negligible father that urban conditions too often fostered. Even as a young man, his domineering, even overpowering personality com¬ pensated for the long hours he was forced to spend away from Beck and his children. But child rearing in the Charleston slave commu¬ nity was a nearly impossible task. Although Becks children were unfettered with the comical or classical names that signified the master's interference, a good many owners presumed the right to name their slaves' children, who were, after all, as much their prop¬ erty as a dog or cat. Such claims often proved confusing to slave chil¬ dren who frequently found themselves torn between the imperious demands of their white master and the authority of their parents. Masters expected to be promptly obeyed without question, but par¬ ents believed they should have the first claim on their children's at¬ tention. One slave father, not too different from Denmark in this re¬ gard, impressed this lesson upon his son when the child answered the master's voice instead of the parent's call. "You are my child and when I call you, you should come immediately," the father insisted, "if you have to pass through fire and water."42

Author's Notes

40. Bacchus, second confession, July 13, 1822, RGA, GM, SCDAH; Bacchus, third confession, July 17, 1822, ibid.; Directory and Stranger's Guide, 1819, 83; Phila¬ delphia Christian Recorder, October 14, 1865.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Egerton, Douglas R. *He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey*. Madison, WI: Madison House, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Douglas R. Egerton, *He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey* (Madison House, 1999), 50–51.

Shortened citation:

Egerton, *He Shall Go Out Free*, 50–51.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.63

American Negro Slave Revolts

Herbert Aptheker

SELECTION	HAPTER XII. THE TURNER CATACLYSM
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: International Publishers, 1943.

Excerpt

Turner was ill on the " sacred day," and the conspirators waited for another sign. This appeared to them on Saturday, August 13, in the " greenish blue color " of the sun. According to Drewry, Turner the next day exhorted at a religious meeting of Negroes in the southern part of Southampton County (not in North Carolina, as has been said) where some of the slaves " signified their willingness to co-operate with him by wearing around their necks red bandanna handkerchiefs." There was, certainly, a meeting of plotters in the afternoon of Sunday, August 21, and it was then decided to start the revolt that evening.

Appreciating the value of a dramatic entrance, Turner was the last to join this gathering. He noticed a newcomer in the group, and declared: 18

I saluted them on coming up, and asked Will how came he there, he answered, his life was worth no more than others, and his liberty as dear to him. I asked him if he meant to obtain it? He said he would, or loose his life. This was enough to put him in full confidence.

These six slaves, then, started out, in the evening of August 21, 1831, on their crusade against bondage. Their first blow— delivered by Turner himself—struck against person and family of Turner's master, Joseph Travis, who were killed. Some arms and horses were taken, the rebels pushed on, and everywhere slaves flocked to their standard; 20 a result which Turner, starting out with but a handful of followers, must have had excellent reasons to anticipate. Within twenty-four hours approximately seventy slaves were actively aiding in the rebellion. By the morning of August 23rd, at least fifty-seven whites —men, women, and children—had been killed, and the rebels had covered about twenty miles.

19 The Confessions, and the press, especially the Richmond Enquirer and the Richmond Whig are the basic sources for the proceedings of the rebellion itself, bearing in mind, of course, that all are hostile to the cause Turner espoused. No attempt will be made to detail these since accuracy is impossible.

Moreover, Drewry made the attempt in forty pages (op. cit., pp. 35-74) and his account entered the realm of fantasy, as when he declared (p. 36) that one infant was temporarily spared because it " sweetly smiled " at its assailant A search for Joseph Travis' name in land or property books was unsuccessful. However, a Joseph Travis was married in Southampton County on October 5, 1829 to Sarah W. Moore, perhaps the widow of Putnam Moore a former owner of Nat Turner. MS. Marriage Register, Southampton, 1750 to 1853, part 2, p. 402. The Southampton Land Book for 1831 does list a Benjamin Travis as the owner of 250 acres, worth with the buildings, about $695, some fifteen miles north of Jerusalem. A Pegg Travis, owner of 2 acres of land worth $24, is also listed.

20 It was later claimed that some of these slaves were forced to join. This is possible though Turner nowhere mentions anything like that. As Thomas Wentworth Higginson pointed out (" Nat Turner's insurrection," The Atlantic Monthly, VIII, pp. 180-181) it was to be expected that once the movement had been crushed that would be offered as an extenuating circumstance.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Aptheker, Herbert. *American Negro Slave Revolts*. New York: International Publishers, 1983. First published 1943 by Columbia University Press.

Footnote citation:

Herbert Aptheker, *American Negro Slave Revolts* (International Publishers, 1943), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Aptheker, *American Negro Slave Revolts*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.64

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

SELECTION	Extending Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 133–134 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Th e German Coast slave revolt of □□□□ remains at best partially explained. Th e two parishes in which the rebellion centered, St. Charles and St. Martin, were roughly □□ percent black in □□□□. Th e absolute size of the population in this area had nearly doubled (from thirty-two hundred to sixty-two hundred) over the previous two decades, but the proportion of slaves in the total population had remained roughly the same. Th ese wealthy sugar parishes were attracting more settlers with slaves, but they were not in the process of becoming suddenly blacker at the time of the rebellion. But the narrow strip of land along the eastern bank of the Mississippi River where the rebellion actually unfolded, the German Coast itself, was even more heavily black than the parishes as a whole. According to Adam Rothman's calculations, this plantation area had □□□ whites but nearly fi ve times that many slaves (□,□□□) as well as □□ free people of color in □□□□.

Moreover, more than □□ percent of all household heads along the German Coast owned slaves and the average number of slaves held in the area was forty-three. Th e overwhelming black majority along the German Coast, one that rivaled that of rice districts of the Carolina Lowcountry in its proportion, could have given slaves a measure of confi dence about their prospects for success, especially if they did not know that the United States Army loomed nearby to assist the local militia in their eff orts to put down the rebellion. Evidence also indicates that at the time of the rebellion, male slaves far outnumbered female slaves in the German Coast region, suggesting an underdeveloped family structure in the area that may have left many German Coast slaves with less to risk than slaves in areas where strong networks of slave families had developed. But demographic factors alone can scarcely explain an insurrection. Large black majorities prevailed in other parts of the South, particularly along the Atlantic rice coast, and signifi cant gender imbalances often characterized life in newer slaveholding areas, creating situations presumably conducive to rebellion but not spawning an actual insurrection unless special leaders appeared or special circumstances emerged.

Accounts either left by whites or extracted from slaves under duress suggest that Charles Paquet, a local free person of color, may have allowed the planning of the rebellion to occur at his home, and at least one accused rebel blamed an otherwise unknown leader, "Joe the Spaniard," of recruiting rebels in front of Paquet's home. Paquet had a history of getting in trouble with whites for harboring runaway slaves, but little is known about the mysterious "Joe the Spaniard," if such a person even existed, except that one accused slave fi ngered him as a ringleader.

Both contemporaries and historians have identifi ed Charles Deslondes, a mulatto slave who was working on the Andry plantation when the rebellion erupted, as the primary leader of the revolt. Rumors held that Charles, owned by the widow of planter Jean-Baptiste Deslondes, was a native of Saint-Domingue. By singling out Charles as a probable leader of the revolt, white Louisianians revealed their suspicion that the uprising was somehow linked with the rebellious spirit imported from the Caribbean. But there remains scant evidence to support the claim that Charles hailed from Saint-Domingue, and other than the identifi cation of Charles as a leader, there is little evidence to suggest that slaves from the Caribbean were either a strong presence among or exerted a disproportionate infl uence on the insurrectionists. According to estimates, more than half of all German Coast slaves had been born outside Louisiana, and almost all of those slaves came from various parts of Africa, though a few came from the Caribbean or other southern states. But most of the slaves who were executed for their leadership roles in the rebellion were creoles and mulattoes, and many of the rebels were either skilled slaves or domestics. But if creoles played a disproportionate role in the rebellion's presumed leadership, a number of recently imported Africans also appeared

in the rebel ranks. No consistent pattern of slave ethnicity or nativity among slave rebels appears to explain the German Coast rebellion. If anything, the prosopography of slave rebels along the German Coast proved that "a diverse group of enslaved people could join together in an eff ort to liberate themselves by force of arms." But the diversity of the insurrectionists does little to explain either the origins of the rebellion or its timing.

Th e German Coast rebellion occurred during a period of unusual political instability, even by the standards of the Louisiana Territory. Just four months before the rebellion, Catholic priest Miguel Hidalgo led a populist revolt in New Spain. After achieving an impressive victory at Guanajuato, the Hidalgo revolutionaries advocated the abolition of slavery in New Spain and threatened to execute all slaveholders who refused to emancipate their slaves. News of the Hidalgo insurgency spread rapidly though Texas and reached Louisiana. Such reports might have infl uenced aspiring slave rebels to strike for freedom. On Louisiana's other border, closer to the German Coast, recent instability in West Florida, and, perhaps more importantly the American preoccupation with establishing control of West Florida, may have convinced German Coast slaves that distractions elsewhere made the time right for rebellion. Th e American takeover of West Florida had pleased white Louisianians generally, but it had raised concerns among slaveholders that either the accompanying uncertainty or retributive Spanish instigation might encourage slave unrest. General Wade Hampton always believed, as a military man assigned to defend the region from the Spanish and those making mischief under Spanish infl uence, that the rebellion was "unquestionably of Spanish origin" and refl ected "extensive combination" on the part of the rebels. Even after the presumed leaders of the insurrection were captured, Hampton still suspected Spanish intrigue. "[W]ithout Doubt," Hampton asserted, there "were others behind the Curtain Still More formidable."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Lacy K. Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 2009), 133–134.

Shortened citation:

Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 133–134.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.65

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	SEVEN: Interracial Immediatism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 196–197 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

African Americans had long fashioned a radical critique of the slaveholding Republic. There is an existing literature on black abolitionists who preceded Garrison in opposing colonization and calling for racial equality, but slave resistance has yet to be incorporated in the rise of immediate abolition.[4] The only example of immediatism before the 1830s was the Haitian Revolution. The black roots of immediatism can be traced to the slave rebellions of this era as well as to free black militancy. Free and enslaved resistance formed two sides of the same coin.[5]

Slave rebels inspired abolitionists. Despite recent claims that authorities and witnesses under duress concocted a slave conspiracy, it is highly likely that in 1822 a literate free black carpenter, Denmark Vesey, tried to orchestrate a slave uprising in Charleston, South Carolina. Vesey, who had bought his freedom on winning a lottery, planned a black exodus to Haiti. Two domestic servants revealed the conspiracy. Vesey and his principal lieutenants, Rolla Bennett, Peter Poyas, the African conjurer Gullah Jack Pritchard, and Monday Gell, were executed. Thirty-fi ve slaves were hanged, while others were transported out of the state, whipped, or acquitted. That Vesey or any of the enslaved artisans and servants arrested should imagine President Boyer of Haiti as their liberator and that they were aware of the antislavery speeches of Sen. Rufus King during the Missouri Crisis and of South Carolina's law of 1820 that made manumission harder by requiring the sanction of the legislature indicated their political sophistication. Vesey was a class leader in the AME Church, which had been visited by members of Allen's Philadelphia church in 1817. State authorities harassed church members and used the conspiracy as an excuse to destroy it and banish Rev. Morris Brown and Rev. Henry Drayton. Brown succeeded Allen as head of the AME.[6]

Vesey and his followers may have failed in the short run, but they helped sow the seeds of slavery's destruction. The conspiracy generated a host of proslavery pamphlets in South Carolina. The state passed new restrictive laws on slavery, including the notorious Negro Seamen's Act, which imprisoned all visiting black sailors in violation of federal law and treaties, and Carolinian planter politicians began their antebellum career as leading spokesmen of disunion and slavery. Abolitionists drew the opposite lesson. Commenting on the conspiracy, Theodore Dwight, who had praised the Haitian Revolution, wrote that African slaves "kidnapped by white men and dragged into endless slavery, cannot be expected to be contented with their situation." Walker, the son of a free black woman and an enslaved father, born around 1796 in North Carolina and also a member of the AME, visited Charleston during the conspiracy. In the 1850s the fugitive slave abolitionist Henry Bibb published an account of Vesey's conspiracy, while Henry Highland Garnet and Douglass evoked Vesey's example. In a fi tting coda, Robert Vesey, his son, helped rebuild the Charleston church in 1865, after emancipation. Four years later Garnet described the murder of one of Vesey's hapless betrayers in the streets of New York.[7]

Slave rebellion gave birth to radical abolitionism. Even before the Vesey conspiracy, the Camden slave plot in South Carolina and Bussa's rebellion in Barbados in 1816 gave notice of slaves' restiveness. Following on the heels of Vesey, the Demerara rebellion of 1823 in present-day Guyana, involving over ten thousand slaves, played an important role in British abolitionists' turn to immediatism. The enslaved themselves were inspired by rumors of freedom, Wilberforce's reputation as a powerful friend, abolitionists' attempts to ameliorate the conditions of slavery, and evangelical Christianity in the person of the missionary John Smith. Like the men who assumed leadership in Vesey's conspiracy, the leaders of the Demerara revolt, Quamina, the African deacon, and his son Jack Gladstone, were skilled slaves with positions of authority in their plantations and in Smith's Bethel church. They had called for withholding of labor. As was the case in most slave rebellions, much of the violence was visited on slaves rather than perpetrated by them.

Not noticed by historians, in 1824 Elizabeth Heyrick coupled her call for immediatism with a defense of the Demerara slave rebels. According to Heyrick, Haiti was living proof of its success, and she blamed the massacres of the revolution on the excesses of planters. In an addendum to her pamphlet on immediate abolition, she reported that the slave insurgents in Demerara had been hanged, some receiving the "protracted torture" of a thousand lashes and being forced to work in chains for the rest of their lives. Are slave rebellions "not in the cause of self-defense from the most degrading and intolerable degradation?" she asked rhetorically. The British extolled Greek resistance to tyranny but handed the slave rebels "a gibbet."[8] Heyrick coupled her call for immediate abolition with a passionate defense of slave resistance.

Besides the large slave rebellions that marked the rise of immediatism, free blacks adopted a militant stance. Robert Wedderburn from Jamaica became a well-known advocate not just of black freedom but also of English radicalism.

Author's Notes

3. Nathan O. Hatch, The Democratization of American Christianity (New Haven, 1989); Robert H. Abzug, Cosmos Crumbling: American Reform and the Religious Imagination (New York, 1994); John R. McKivigan, The War Against Proslavery Religion: Abolitionism and the Northern Churches, 1830–1865 (Ithaca, 1984), 19–24.

4. Benjamin Quarles, Black Abolitionists (New York, 1969); Paul Goodman, Of One Blood: Abolitionism and the Origins of Racial Equality (Berkeley, 1998), chap. 3; Rich- 730 Lovejoy: Abolitionist in Congress (New Brunswick, N.J., 1967), 223–43; Sinha, "The Caning of Charles Sumner," 256–57; William F. Moore and Jane Ann Moore, Collaborators for Emancipation: Abraham Lincoln and Owen Lovejoy (Urbana, 2014).

5. Vincent Harding, There Is a River: The Black Struggle for Freedom in America (New York, 1981); Sterling Stuckey, Slave Culture: Nationalist Theory and the Foundations of Black America (New York, 1987); Merton L. Dillon, Slavery Attacked: Southern Slaves and Their Allies, 1619–1865 (Baton Rouge, 1990); Gelien Matthews, Caribbean Slave Revolts and the British Abolitionist Movement (Baton Rouge, 2006).

6. Lionel H. Kennedy and Thomas Parker, eds., An Offi cial Report of the Trials of Sundry Negroes... (Charleston, S.C., 1822); James Hamilton Jr., An Account of the Late Intended Insurrection Among a Portion of the Blacks of this City (Charleston, S.C., 1822); GUE, Twelfth Month, 1822; "The Making of a Slave Conspiracy, Part I," WMQ 58 (October 2001): 913–76; "The Making of a Slave Conspiracy, Part II," WMQ 59 (January 2002): 153–268; Douglas R. Egerton, He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey (Madison, 1999); Egerton "Of Facts and Fables: New Light on the Denmark Vesey Affair," South Carolina Historical Magazine 105 (January 2004): 8–48; Robert L. Paquette, "From Rebellion to Revisionism: The Continuing Debate about the Denmark Vesey Affair," Journal of the Historical Society 4 (Fall 2004): 8–48; James O"Neil Spady, "Power and Confession: On the Credibility of the Earliest Reports of the Denmark Vesey Slave Conspiracy," WMQ 68 (April 2011): 287–304.

7. Niles Weekly Register, September 14, 1822; Manisha Sinha, The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina (Chapel Hill, 2000), 14–16; John Lofton, Denmark Vesey's Revolt: The Slave Plot that Lit a Fuse to Fort Sumter (Kent, Ohio, 1964); Peter P. Hinks, To Awaken My Affl icted Brethren: David Walker and the Problem of Antebellum Slave Resistance (University Park, Pa., 1997); Slave Insurrection in Southampton County, Va.... Compiled and Published by Henry Bibb (New York, 1850), 1–7; Egerton, He Shall Go Out Free, xxiii, xxiv, 203–28; Christian Recorder, March 6, 1869.

8. L. Glen Inabinet, " 'The July Fourth Incident' of 1816: An Insurrection Plotted by Slaves in Camden, South Carolina," in Herbert A. Johnson, ed., South Carolina Legal History (Spartanburg, S.C., 1980), 209–21; Emilia Viotti da Costa, Crowns of Glory, Tears of Blood: The Demerara Slave Rebellion of 1823 (New York, 1994); Michael Craton, Testing the Chains: Resistance to Slavery in the British West Indies (Ithaca, 1982), chaps. 20, 21; GUE, First Month, 1824; [Elizabeth Heyrick], Immediate not Gradual Abolition... (New York, 1825), 7–8, 13, 21–22.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition* (Yale University Press, 2016), 196–197.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 196–197.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.66

Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community

Vanessa M. Holden

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Excerpt

The historiography of Nat Turner has influenced most accounts of slave rebellion in the United States because of the rebellion's relative success and Nat Turner's place in American historical memory. Most studies of American slave rebellions focus more on male leaders and on each rebellion's broader political significance than on the diversity of any rebellion's participants. Occasionally, historians cast the enslaved men involved in American rebellions as protectors of enslaved communities, grasping for masculine validation by protecting their wives, children, and kin. But communities were much more than the backdrops for resistive action; they were the genesis of resistive action. They were dynamic and diverse, and they were integral to a pervasive culture of resistance among African Americans.

Stephanie M. H. Camp's work on enslaved women and resistance in the U.S. South stands alone in the field by fully exposing this hole in historical narratives; it challenges the centrality of armed rebellion in the historiography. She writes, "The valorization of the organized and the visible veils the lives of women, who rarely participated directly in slave rebellions and who made up only a small proportion of runaways to the North—the kinds of slave resistance that have been most studied within the United States."

However, although Camp's work does much to expand the definition of rebellion and resistance, women remain "everyday" resistors. Nevertheless, with Camp's important work in mind, it becomes clear that resistance and rebellion existed along a continuum that assumes that both men and women participated in strategies of both resistance and rebellion because of their connectedness within the enslaved community.

Scholars of America's slave revolts have largely espoused the view of enslaved women as simply excluded by enslaved men. This makes little sense in light of African American women's integral role in the African American social and cultural communities, their ubiquitous resistive activity as described by Camp, and their often intimate, hardly consensual connection to white men and the white community. The idea that enslaved people suddenly adhered to a gender code that made enslaved men more apt to rebel and able to exclude enslaved women from their plans is highly implausible in light of the historiography of African American women's history. African American women were involved in an active and constant culture of resistance among Black people. Their persistent everyday resistance positioned them within their communities to participate in moments of violent revolt.

The neighborhood where the Southampton Rebellion took place was also home to numerous sites of everyday resistance. Enslaved men were not the only members of the Black community who practiced everyday resistance. Free and enslaved adults and children moved through these sites of resistance throughout their workday. Much like physical geography, enslaved and free Black people experienced and constructed human geography, the mental mapping of both the physical location of humans and their social relationships in space and time, as a composite of many layers. To map the human geography of the many sites of resistance in Southampton County is to look beyond who the creators of the historical sources historians have associated with the rebellion mark as rebels—mostly enslaved men—and see the rebellion as a product of an interconnected community that includes enslaved women and children and free people of color.

Instead of presenting one new narration of the rebellion and the experience of community members, Surviving Southampton maps different communities into the resistive geography of Southampton County. Chapter 1, "Geographies of Surveillance and Control," begins with an exploration of the systems enslavers, landowners, and officials used throughout Virginia's history to attempt to control and constrain African American mobility. These geographies of surveillance and control were present on individual landholdings, in the neighborhood where the rebellion took place, and throughout the county. Whites did their best to extract labor from African Americans and police their movement to that end. Understanding the long history of surveillance allows for a deeper knowledge of the long history of African American evasion and resistance in Southampton County.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Holden, Vanessa M. *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Vanessa M. Holden, *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community* (University of Illinois Press, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Holden, *Surviving Southampton*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.67

South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War

Alice L. Baumgartner

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2020.

Excerpt

THERE WAS NO OFFICIAL UNDERGROUND RAILROAD TO MEXICO, only the occasional ally; no network, only a set of discrete, unconnected nodes. Some fugitive slaves received help while making their escape—from free blacks, ship captains, Mexicans, Germans, gamblers, preachers, mail riders, and other "lurking scoundrels." Most, though, escaped from the United States by their own ingenuity. They forged slave passes to give the impression that they were traveling with the permission of their masters. They disguised themselves as white men, fashioning wigs from horsehair and pitch. They stole horses, firearms, skiffs, dirk knives, fur hats, and, in one instance, twelve gold watches and a diamond breast pin. And then, while either gathering oysters or collecting firewood or walking to a camp meeting, they disappeared.

Two options awaited most runaways in Mexico. The first was to join the military colonies, a series of outposts that the Mexican government established to defend its northeastern frontier against foreign invaders and "barbarous" Indians. The second was to fill Mexico's labor shortage by seeking employment as servants and day laborers. Both alternatives came at a cost. The demands of military service along the northeastern frontier constrained the autonomy of former slaves. Runaways who worked as servants endured other forms of coercion. In parts of southern Mexico, such as Yucatán and Chiapas, indentured servitude sometimes amounted to slavery in all but name. Even in regions where the labor system differed from human bondage, coercion continued in other forms. In northern Mexico, hacienda owners enjoyed the right to physically punish their employees. Farther to the south, in San Luis Potosí, Querétaro, and Zacatecas, indentured servants often had no choice but to work on haciendas because their alternatives were far worse. These labor systems were coercive, even though the mechanism of coercion was economic necessity rather than physical violence.

The differences between the southern route to freedom and its more renowned northern counterpart are not as pronounced as they might appear. Although popular understandings of the Underground Railroad describe hundreds of white antislavery activists ferrying largely anonymous runaways to freedom, recent scholarship has shown that the "conductors" on the northbound route, like the southbound one, were individuals and small groups who were largely oblivious to one another's existence. Runaways who escaped to the North also found that their "freedom" was abridged, just as it was in Mexico. In the "free" states, runaways enjoyed only a "doubtful liberty," as Frederick Douglass later put it. The Constitution, reinforced by the Fugitive Slave Acts of 1793 and 1850, provided for the return of runaways who managed to get across the Mason- Dixon Line. Even "free" blacks were denied the same rights as their white neighbors. Although they paid taxes, they were not always allowed to vote, and their children were often denied access to public schools. Nor could "free" blacks travel freely or settle where they wished. In Ohio, black residents had to post a five-hundred-dollar bond "to guarantee their good behavior." The state of Illinois excluded African Americans altogether in 1853.

For all of their similarities, the northern and southern routes differed in one important respect: numbers. Determining how many enslaved people actually reached Mexico is difficult. My estimate, based on scattered and incomplete Mexican sources, puts the number somewhere between three and five thousand people—considerably fewer than the thirty thousand to one hundred thousand runaways who crossed the Mason-Dixon Line. The number of slaves who reached Mexico was undeniably small. Still, each escape was important in its own right. And their collective story had strategic and political significance out of all proportion to the numbers involved. Their

experiences reorient our understanding of the Civil War, showing that one of the most distinctively "American" events in US history was in part ignited by the enslaved people who escaped to the south and the laws by which they claimed their freedom in Mexico.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Baumgartner, Alice L. *South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Alice L. Baumgartner, *South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War* (Basic Books, 2020), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Baumgartner, *South to Freedom*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.68

Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement

Fergus M. Bordewich

SELECTION	Epilogue
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 431–432 · Supplied edition: New York: Amistad, 2005.

Excerpt

Abolitionism taught the country that the problem of race was not on common struggle, learning to rely on each other not as master on slave, or child on parent, but as fellow soldiers in a war that most Americans did not yet even know had begun. Apart from the lives saved, the underground's greatest achievement may have been its creation of a truly free zone of interracial activity where blacks not only directed complex logistical and financial operations, but also, in some places, supervised support networks that included white men and women who were accorded no special status owing to their skin color. Perhaps more than any other aspect of our road thus stands as an answer to slavery's legacy of hurt and shame, reminding us that our ancestors were not always enemies across an unbridgeable chasm of color, and that even a century and a half ago, we were capable of heroic collaboration. By understanding how Americans participated in and reacted to the ciety based on law rather than on passions and power has always had in coping with political movements that challenge its most basic assumptions. The underground was the greatest movement of civil disobedience tive subversion of federal law and the prevailing mores of their communities. Isaac Hopper, David Ruggles, Levi Coffin, Jermain Loguen, and the such contemporary provocateurs as Earth First! and those who take to the slaves, Northern women began to discover the nature of their own servitude as women, and in speaking out on behalf of enslaved African Americans, they discovered their own voices and began for the first time

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bordewich, Fergus M. *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement*. New York: Amistad, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Fergus M. Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement* (New York: Amistad, 2005), 431–432.

Shortened citation:

Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan*, 431–432.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.69

Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation

John Hope Franklin and Loren Schweninger

SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Meanwhile, pursuing his own line of inquiry, Larry Gara looked at the myths surrounding the Underground Railroad. Although the Underground Railroad was a reality, Gara said, "'much of the material relating to it belongs in the realm of folklore rather than history." It was not, he asserted, a well-organized transportation system offering multitudes of slaves safe passage to the ''/Promised,Land of freedom." Indeed, most runaways remained in the South, few were aided by abolitionists or anyone else, and many fled with a sense of terrible urgency.*

In the decades that followed, a large number of books and articles about slavery appeared. During the 1970s most of the literature focused on black culture and black consciousness and on slave communities and slave family life. Some of these authors argued that the emergence of a unique African American culture—extended kinship systems, folk tales, spirituals, Afro-Christianity—was an important vehicle for resisting slavery. Only a few of them discussed the importance of runaways. John Blassingame, for example, dedicated a chapter in his seminal study The Slave Community to rebels and runaways, and Gerald W. Mullin broke new ground in Flight and Rebellion with an imaginative use of runaway advertisements.°

Despite the large number of books and articles touching on the subject, there is still no full-length study of runaway slaves. In fact, much of the scholarship about slave resistance continues to be dominated by the conceptual framework and the focus presented by Herbert Aptheker more than a half-century ago: 'The Machinery of Control,"" 'Early Plots and Rebellions,"" 'The Turner Cataclysm and Some Repercussions,"" and 'The Civil War Years."" Perhaps no book has "'exercised such dominion over a subject of prime importance,'" Genovese writes, as American Negro Slave Revolts. Peter Kolchin recently observed, however, that Aptheker probably exaggerated the extent of slave unrest. He lamented that there is still no adequate study of slave resistance or slave flight.®

We have undertaken an extensive examination of "slave flight" between 1790 and 1860. It reveals, among other things, some problems of management of the South's "peculiar institution." It shows how a significant number of slaves challenged the system and how the great majority of them struggled to attain their freedom even if they failed.

The price they paid for their unwillingness to submit was obviously enormous. This study reveals how slave owners marshaled considerable effort to prevent the practice of running away, meted out punishments to slaves who disregarded the rules, and established laws and patrols to control the movement of slaves. It also exposes the violence and cruelty that were inherent in the slave system. Indeed, it shows, perhaps better than any other approach, how slaves resisted with various forms of violence and how slave owners responded, at times brutally, to demonstrate their authority over their human chattel.

Even today important aspects of the history of slavery remain shrouded in myth and legend. Many people still believe that slaves were generally content, that racial violence on the plantation was an aberration, and that the few who ran away struck out for the Promised Land in the North or Canada. We have carefully scrutinized those who challenged the system; when, where, and how they ran away; how long they remained out; how they survived away from the plantation; and how and when they were brought back and punished. We examine the motives of absentees, or those who left the farm or plantation for a few days or weeks; the incentives of outlyers, or those who hid out in the woods for months, sometimes years; and the activities of maroons, who established camps in remote swamps and bayous. We also examine how "term slaves," or those to be emancipated at a future date, responded to their status and how free blacks assisted their brethren and on occasion themselves became runaways.

Of equal importance, we seek to analyze the motives and responses of the slaveholding class and other whites. How did owners react to such intransigence in their midst? How did they attempt to halt the flow of runaways? What laws did they seek to enact? What punishments did they administer? How successfully did they curtail such dissidence? Indeed, it is less important to discover what happened to individual slaves than to understand the relationship between the owners and the runaways who challenged the system, a relationship that reveals perhaps as well as any perspective the true nature of the South's peculiar institution.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Franklin, John Hope, and Loren Schweninger. *Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

John Hope Franklin and Loren Schweninger, *Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation* (Oxford University Press, 1999), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Schweninger, *Runaway Slaves*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.70

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

SELECTION	HAPTER TWO: I Could Not Stay There: Women, Men, and Truancy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Nonetheless, gender-specific roles within the family created di√erent responsibilities and conceptions of acceptable behavior for women and men. Even as Ross's interview testifies to the importance of family to enslaved men, it also a≈rms the distinction between men's and women's family responsibilities and the di√erent pressures those roles brought to bear on them. Ross's leaving slavery and his family behind did not contradict his personal identity as deeply as the same act would have undermined many enslaved women's sense of their womanhood, their obligations to family, and their places in their communities. Gender norms and definitions of female duty helped to shape fugitive behavior by diminishing women's rates of flight.

A final factor preventing women from running away in the same numbers as men was their relative lack of knowledge of geography beyond the plantation. Women did not generally perform the work of transporting people, goods, and messages that took carriage drivers, teamsters, and the runners of errands o√ farms. Thus women rarely became familiar with neighborhood geography or with water craft. As fugitives, if they abandoned the byways for a main road, they were sure to draw attention—and suspicion. One bondman was a regular truant and very "skilled in running away." He had learned to carry a bridle with him so that "if any body should see me in the woods... and asked, 'what are you doing here sir? you are a runaway?'—I said, 'no, sir, I am looking for our old mare;' at other times 'looking for our cows.' For such excuses I was let pass."∞≠ Such "excuses" were useful for men who performed the greater share of chores o√ plantations. Conversely, the possible presence of children, with their own demands of needing to be fed, carried, hurried along, and kept quiet, would only have highlighted the conspicuousness of a woman traversing unfamiliar terrain.∞∞

The dangers that all women and men anticipated if they thought about escape to the North were fearsome: dogs, patrols, unknown directions, cold, heat, lack of food, the risk of capture, and in that event, certain horrific punishment. All in all, the social and the logistical di≈culties were nearly insurmountable for the majority of enslaved people who even bothered to contemplate flight to the North. Even fewer women than men tried it; apparently many women concluded that permanent escape was impossible or undesirable. As a result, they were bound more narrowly to planters' geographies of containment.

Yet enslaved women did not submit to planters' designs for spatial and temporal order by remaining obediently in their assigned places. Instead, like men, they chose truancy, generally by fleeing to the nearest woods or swamps and occasionally to nearby towns. Truancy was particularly important in the lives of enslaved women, but not because it was a "female form" of resistance. It was not; men made up the majority of truants most of the time. Rather, absenteeism is an important part of the story of women's enslavement because women engaged in it more frequently than they ran away as fugitives. Women also played an essential supporting role in the practice of absenteeism by feeding truants. Both of these factors gave gender-specific meaning to women's acts of truancy and to their role in the creation of the rival geography.

Some plantations left documentation that allows us to see how much more frequently women ran away temporarily. In Adams County, Mississippi, John Nevitt presided over Clermont plantation, located on fertile land along the Mississippi River at the state's southwestern border. Nevitt's bondpeople worked Clermont's land producing cotton, tobacco, and rice, which Nevitt easily traded in nearby Natchez, whence it was transported along the river.∞≤

But the production and sale of these goods was not smooth; rather, it was marred every month by multiple incidents of absenteeism, including many by women.∞≥ Compared with the number of women among fugitives, women's rates of truancy are striking. When women on Nevitt's estate ran away, they generally represented significant proportions of the total numbers of incidents of absenteeism and of the number of truants: with two years excepted, women constituted from 19 to 41 percent of truants.∞∂ The di√ering behaviors of men and women at Clermont plantation are similar to those in other, relatively more opaque but still instructive plantation records. In the summer of 1828, the sole year in which incidents of truancy at the Rockingham plantation in the Beaufort District of South Carolina were documented, 55 percent of the truants were women.∞∑ During the best-recorded period of truancy at James Henry Hammond's Silver Blu√ plantation in South Carolina, the time between his assumption of ownership in December 1831 and the end of his first full and highly tumultuous year, 32 percent of the truants were women.∞∏ Clearly, at least on these three plantations with distinctive records of truancy, women made up a greater proportion of truants than they did of runaways.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Camp, Stephanie M. H. *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie M. H. Camp, *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2004), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Camp, *Closer to Freedom*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.71

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 230–231 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

230 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll frequently seen in that neighborhood." William Hayden remembered traveling a road "generally known as 'THE OLD TRACE,' which had not been traveled for some time. This was thickly covered with timber, the principal part of which was young hickories." Such a landscape was historical and ex periential—one known through practical navigation rather than ordinal abstraction.[48]

For enslaved people, the woods and swamps striated across the grain of the land were a refuge from the mean dominion of cotton. Slaves took to the woods to hunt, trap, and fish to supplement their rations. Deer, raccoons, rabbits, turkeys, opossum, pike, perch, catfish, and shad all populated the woods and waters of the Mississippi Valley, and all were used by slaves to supplement their rations.[49] Charles Ball provided an especially detailed account of enslaved woodsmanship: of how he baited deer with salt, and trapped raccoons and opossum when the "ground was thickly strewed with nuts"; of the six-foot rattlesnake he skinned and stretched on a board; of the way that the peculiar behavior of his hunting dog alerted him to the presence of a panther while he was working in a pond, stripping wet tree branches of their bark, from which he planned to make some "very good ropes." Indeed, Ball thrived in the woods, to such an extent that his overseer said he could "smell the meat" on Ball's body, and began to suspect the slave of stealing cotton. "Charles, you need not tell lies about it; you have been eating meat, I know you have, no Negro could look as fat, and sleek, and black, and greasy as you if he had nothing to eat but corn bread and river chubs.... Let us know where you got the meat that you have been eating, and you shall not be whipped."[50]

As it turned out, Ball had been harvesting not cotton but fish, which he had transformed into bacon by means of barter. In the meat-poor agro-capitalist ecology of the Cotton Kingdom, slaves generally had a ready market for their game.[51] The sort of "outsourcing" represented by sanctioning supplemental provision patches or hunting for game contained troubling concealed costs, for what slaveholders saved in food, they sacrificed in discipline. Ball found a "fence" for his fish in the person of a white boatman, whose riverine business allowed him ready access to his neighbor's slaves.[52]

Author's Notes

48. Mason, Life of Isaac Mason, 32; Hayden, Narrative of William Hayden, 58. See also Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 208; Black, The Life and Sufferings of Leonard Black, 22.

49. Brown, "Narrative of William Wells Brown," 190; Hayden, Narrative of William Hayden, 25; Hughes, Thirty Years a Slave, 19; Green, Narrative of the Life of J. D. Green, 22; Parker, His Promised Land, 30; Olmsted, The Cotton Kingdom, 448; John Hebron Moore, The Emergence of the Cotton Kingdom in the Old Southwest: Mississippi, 1770–1860 (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1988), 155.

50. Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 138, 142, 183–197, 220–225.

51. On slaves selling game, see Olmsted, The Cotton Kingdom, 448; and Hayden, Narrative of William Hayden, 25.

52. Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 188–189, 192–193. See also Moore, The Emergence of the Cotton Kingdom in the Old Southwest, 155.

53. Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 208; Black, The Life and Sufferings of Leonard Black, 22; A. K. Farrar to H. W. Drake, September 5, 1857, Alexander Farrar Papers, Folder 71, Lower Mississippi Valley Collection, Hill Memorial Library, Louisiana State University. See also Northup, Twelve Years a Slave, 100; Mason, Life of Isaac Mason, 39–40 ("Joe Brown... told us to meet him that night at Price's Woods.... The place was well known to me and could be easily found").

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013), 230–231.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 230–231.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.72

Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South

Deborah Gray White

SELECTION	AR'N'TIA WOMAN?
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 168–169 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1985.

Excerpt

Polly, a long-time family favorite for whose services her master said he could set no price, left as soon as she heard Northern troops in the distance. During the war, Eliza Andrews confided to her diary that so many blacks had turned into Yankee spies that even Mammy could not be trusted. Andrews was as distressed as North Carolinian Catherine Edmundson. She could not understand why Fanny, a confidante who had nursed her in "the most devoted and affectionate manner," who during a long house slaves and drivers, but Mammy's leaving had special sig-

Southerner's perception of the perfectly organized society. She was at once black and female, and thus in reality and mythology was subservient to white men. For men whose honor and manhood ultimately depended on their ability to control women and feat on the battlefield. More significant, even though few black mothers. For white men and women who had never questioned their black maid's devotion—even maternal love—Mammy's deshe stopped on the doorstep and, shaking her fist at Mother

[with whom she had had an altercation], she said: I'll miss you—the Lord knows I'll miss you—but you'll miss me, too you see if you don't.

South hardly knew how to manage without its eternally loyal, nurturing, and humble Mammy. Southerners had created this icon as proof to themselves and the world that slavery was benign, that its regenerative powers could domesticate Jezebel. Before the Civil War slaveowners had held the naked power to make their fantasy mother a reality for themselves. Emancipation shattered the fantasy and slammed them into a world full of fistshaking women walking out on them. As buffers between themselves and the black female world came tumbling down, white men and women faced a black woman they did not recognize.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

White, Deborah Gray. Ar'n't I a Woman? Female Slaves in the Plantation South. Rev. ed. New York: W. W. Norton, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Deborah Gray White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South* (W. W. Norton, 1985), 168–169.

Shortened citation:

White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?*, 168–169.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.73

Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic

Erskine Clarke

SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

Dwelling Place is a history of two peoples living together on the Georgia coast from 1805 to 1869. It is a single narrative because their lives were linked and inter¬ woven in innumerable and often intimate ways and because this coastal land shaped all who lived along its rivers, by its swamps, and on its islands and sandy hills, even as those who lived there shaped the land itself. Yet Dwelling Place is also two histories —one of whites and one of blacks, one of owners and one of slaves. For in spite of all of their closeness and all the ways their lives were bound together on this particular part of the Georgia coast, there was a great divide be¬ tween those who were owned and those who owned. So great was the distance between them and so different was their experience that Dwelling Place is nec¬ essarily two histories of one place and one time.

One history centers on the family of Charles Colcock Jones, who came to be known among whites as the Apostle to the Negro Slaves. The other history fo¬ cuses on the family of Lizzy Jones, the matriarch of one of the most influential and widely connected families of the Gullah-speaking slave community of Lib¬ erty County, Georgia. Both families were part of dense networks of relatives and friends who constituted significant parts of each family's history. Both families, in all their own diversity and peculiarities, saw the landscape of Liberty County and understood the stories of the people who lived on its land from very differ¬ ent places and in very different ways.

Dwelling Place is an attempt to tell these two histories in a single narrative, be¬ cause each history was dependent on the other and cannot be understood apart from the other. One history is of a white family s love for one another and of their love for the beauty of a low-country home. Their story is marked by the bitter irony of good intentions gone astray and of benevolent impulses becoming ideo¬ logical supports for deep oppression. The other history is of a particular African- American family's resistance to the degradations of slavery. Their story is marked by the varied strategies of its members —not only open resistance to slavery but also acculturation and relentless negotiations—as they sought to ease the bur¬ dens of slavery and to move toward a new future for themselves and their family. Because the study explores the lives of specific individuals and families over an extended period of time, it is a composite biography: the lives of owners and owned are seen overlapping one another and being layered together in complex and interdependent ways, even as they are both located within larger social and cultural contexts.

The narrative begins in 1805 at Liberty Hall plantation, three months after the birth of Charles Colcock Jones and a short time before the birth of Lizzy Jones's second son, Cato. It ends in 1869, when the entire region appeared strangely and, for the blacks, wonderfully changed. The story follows the histories of these two families, and their dense networks of relatives and friends, through a period of immense social, cultural, and technological transformations. These transforma¬ tions, and the comings and goings of plantation life for more than sixty years, are seen and experienced from above in Dwelling Place through the eyes of ruling whites and are seen and experienced from below through the eyes of resource¬ ful slaves and freed people who struggled first against the bitter burden of slavery and then against its legacy of a powerful racism.

Any history, of course, involves not only intense research and analysis but also an act of imagination as the "facts" of research are arranged and interpreted in the mind of the historian. This is true of a history of the whites of Liberty County who left behind an extensive collection of letters and documents. An act of imagi¬ nation is required to enter their world even with all the richness of their written record, for their nineteenth-century plantation world is distant from the largely urban world of the twenty-first century. The distance is perhaps most clearly felt at those points when we ask, "How could they believe that?" or "How could they do that?"

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clarke, Erskine. *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Erskine Clarke, *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic* (Yale University Press, 2005), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Clarke, *Dwelling Place*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.74

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

SELECTION	PART I OF THE GOD OF THE LIVING
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 162–163 · Supplied edition: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

The philosophical problem of religion, its truth and falsehood, represents a domain only partially separate from that of politics.' Since religion expresses the antagonisms between the life of the individual and that of society and between the life of civil society and that of political society, it cannot escape being profoundly political.' The truth of religion comes from its symbolic rendering of man's moral experience; it proceeds intuitively and imaginatively. Its falsehood comes from its attempt to substitute itself for science and to pretend that its poetic statements are information about reality. In either case, religion makes statements about man in his world—about his moral and social relationships—even when it makes statements about his relationship to God. Even when a man's adherence to a religion is purely formal or ritualistic, essential elements of his politics are thereby exposed, for participation in rites normally means participation in social acts that precede, rather than follow, individual emotional response. He enters, usually as a child, into a pattern of socially directed behavior that conditions his subsequent emotional development and that, from the beginning, presupposes a community and a sense of common interest.' (For good reason the whites of the Old South tried to shape the religious life of their slaves, and the slaves overtly, covertly, and even intuitively fought to shape it themselves}

[The religion of Afro-American slaves, like all religion, grew as a way of ordering the world and of providing a vantage point from which to judge it. Like all religion it laid down a basis for moral conduct and an explanation for the existence of evil and injustice. The religion of the slaves manifested many African "traits" and exhibited greater continuity with African ideas than has generally been appreciated. But it reflected a different reality in a vastly different land and in the end emerged as something new. If black religion in America today still echoes Africa and expresses something of the common fate of black people on four continents, it has remained nonetheless a distinct product of the American slave experience. It could not have been other. But the religion of the slaves became Christian and unfolded as a special chapter in the general history of the Christian religions)

The notion of Christianity as pre-eminently a religion of slaves arose long before Nietzsche's polemics, which nonetheless must be credited with imparting to it special force and clarity. "The Christian faith, from the beginning," Nietzsche insists, "is sacrifice: the sacrifice of all freedom, all pride, all self-confidence of Spirit; it is at the same time subjection, self-derision, and self-mutilation." This cruel religion of painful subjection, he continues, softened the slaves by drawing the hatred from their souls, and without hatred there could be no revolt. Africans eventually provided their own version of this interpretation of Christianity's political role. According to their widespread saying: "At first we had the land and you had the Bible. Now we have the Bible and you have the land.'

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (Pantheon Books, 1974), 162–163.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 162–163.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.75

The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925

Herbert G. Gutman

SELECTION	Take Root There or Nowhere: I
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 133–134 · Supplied edition: Pantheon Books (pb. Vintage), 1976.

Excerpt

That is why the similarities in behavior among the Cedar Vale, Good Hope, and Stirling slaves are so significant in examining the adaptive behavior of the slaves and in assessing the importance of slave beliefs. Nothing is known about the Good Hope and Stirling slaves before their names appeared in obscure birth registers, but the early Cedar Vale slaves who became the parents of two generations of Cohoon blacks had been scrambled together forcibly from diverse owners by a young Virginian's desire to become a planter. Most were the children of Afro-Americans and the descendants of men and women wrenched much earlier from West African familial and kin groups. Afro-American slaves were the initial victims of Cohoon's enterprise, and his over-all strategy worked well. At his death, he owned forty-seven slaves; his sons owned another eighteen. Measured by standards common to the slaveholding class, Cohoon, whose father had given him one slave, had done quite well. But measured by the standards common to the slave culture, the Cohoon slaves and those belonging to his sons also meaning. That culture was not merely a plantation culture. It was a slave culture. The behavior of the Cohoon slaves requires us to make that essential distinction. Historians frequently distinguish between the condition of plantation and farm slaves, an important one for many analytic purposes. The behavior of the Cohoon slaves, however, suggests that the distinction is inappropriate in discussing slave marital and sexual beliefs. Only the last generation of Cohoon slaves. were born plantation slaves. It is improbable that the detached individuals brought together by Cohoon's purchases at about the time of the War of 1812 had come from large plantations. Most probably came from smaller agricultural units. But even if some had been born plantation slaves, Cohoon's place—the setting in which their community and its closely related families emerged—became a fairly large Upper

South plantation over the next twenty or thirty years, a development that transformed their slave status. All who became adults in the 1830s and the 1840s also became large-plantation slaves. 'Their response to that transformation had its roots among slaves who had not been born large-plantation slaves and who carried into developing large plantations important slave beliefs unrelated in origin to large-plantation social experiences.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gutman, Herbert G. *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1976.

Footnote citation:

Herbert G. Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925* (Pantheon Books (pb. Vintage), 1976), 133–134.

Shortened citation:

Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925*, 133–134.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.76

Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves

Ira Berlin

SELECTION	prologue : slaveryandfreedom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 15–16 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

In presenting a history of slavery in mainland North America from its ill-defined beginnings to its fiery demise, Generations of Captivity reprises and extends my earlier study, Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America. The short five years since the publication of Many Thousands Gone have witnessed a vast outpouring of new research in this field. To take only the crudest of measures, more than two hundred books have been submitted for the Gilder Lehrman Institute's Frederick Douglass Award for the best study on slavery. The journal Slavery and Abolition's annual bibliography of scholarly articles and conference papers regularly runs over thirty tightly packed pages. Generations of Captivity draws on this new scholarship to deepen understanding of the charter, plantation, and revolutionary generations.

Generations of Captivity also addresses the large, and largely unanswered, question posed by recent studies of slavery in colonial and revolutionary North America, including my own. At the beginning of the nineteenth century (the point at which Many Thousands Gone concludes), the markers that are most closely identified with slavery's history in the United States—cotton cultivation, residence in the blackbelt, and African-Christian spirituality—hardly existed. In 1800 few American slaves grew cotton, few resided in the Deep South, and most did not identify with Christianity—no matter how latitudinous the definition of Christian belief. Yet in 1865, when with the ratification of the Thirteenth Amendment to the Constitution black people completed their wartime exodus from slavery, all of these elements were in place. Most slaves grew cotton, resided in the Deep South, and professed Christianity.

Little in the vast literature of nineteenth-century slavery in the United States explains the plantation revolutions that transformed tobacco and rice growers into cultivators of cotton and sugar, the Second Middle Passage that forcibly transferred nearly one million men and women from the seaboard to the interior, and the sudden willingness of men and women whose ancestors resisted Christianity for more than two centuries to emgenerationsofcaptivity brace it and make it their own. Although there is a rich and growing monographic literature on each of these subjects—upon which much of this book rests—none of the great studies of nineteenth-century slavery make these rapid and often traumatic changes in black life the central element in slavery's history between the Revolution and the Civil War.

"The rigid and static nature of ante-bellum slavery, 1830–1860," wrote Kenneth M. Stampp nearly fifty years ago in his classic study The Peculiar Institution, "makes it possible to examine it institutionally with only slight regard for chronology." Eugene D. Genovese in his Roll, Jordan, Roll, another foundational text, and almost all other scholars—even those critical of Stampp and Genovese—have followed Stampp's lead. These seminal works—now more than a generation old, eons on the revisionist clock— have been elaborated and critiqued by a host of specialized studies of agricultural practice, domestic relations, manumission, material culture, plantation architecture, religious conventions, slave hire, underclass resistance, westward migration, and dozens of like subjects. While they are premised on a society in flux, the full force of these accumulated changes on slave society has yet to be measured. As a result, even the best recent overviews of antebellum slavery also remain riveted to the relationship between master and slave. Indeed, it was precisely such an attachment that sent scholars who were interested in slavery's evolution, including myself, to the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, years in which free people were enslaved and Africans became African Americans. It now appears that the period of slavery's most rapid change in mainland North America was not its first two hundred years but the half century preceding the Civil War.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Berlin, Ira. *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Ira Berlin, *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003), 15–16.

Shortened citation:

Berlin, *Generations of Captivity*, 15–16.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.77

The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South

John W. Blassingame

SELECTION	The Slave Community
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 178–179 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

Many slaves were lucky enough to have masters who refused to intercede in family affairs. In order to relieve themselves of responsibility, many planters gave slave parents complete control of their children. Some masters did not punish slave children but instead asked their parents to do so. On Charles Ball's plantation the overseer did nothing to undermine the authority black males had in their families even when they beat their wives.^^ On large plantations and in cities the slaves were so rarely under the constant surveillance of their masters that there the black male faced no obstacle (other than his mate) in exercising authority in his family. While living in Baltimore, for instance, Noah Davis declared that he had "the entire control" of his family.^* There were several avenues open to the slave in his effort to gain status in his family. Whenever possible, men added delicacies to their family's monotonous fare of corn meal, fat pork, and molasses by hunting and fishing. If the planter permitted the his wife in this family undertaking.

The husband could also demonstrate his importance in the family unit by making furniture for the cabin or building partitions between cabins which contained more than one family. The slave who did such things for his family gained not only the approbation of his wife, but he also gained status in the quarters.^^ According to William Green, in the view of the slaves when one tried to provide for his family in this manner: "the man who does this is a great man amongst them."^^ Sometimes, by extra work, slave men earned enough money to buy sugar and coffee for the family or to surprise their wives with scarves or dresses. Often, when masters did not provide adequate clothing for their slaves, black men bought clothes for their children and wives. Masters, not the black men, determined how much care and attention slave women received when they were pregnant and the treatment that infants received. During her pregnancy a slave wife usually continued her back-breaking labor until a few weeks before her child was born. Solicitous of the health of the new few days and often for weeks to nurse the infant. If he were especially interested in rearing slave children (and most masters were), he established a definite routine for nursing the child. The mother either carried the infant to the field with her or re-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Blassingame, John W. *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South*. Rev. ed. New York: Oxford University Press, 1979.

Footnote citation:

John W. Blassingame, *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South* (Oxford University Press, 1979), 178–179.

Shortened citation:

Blassingame, *The Slave Community*, 178–179.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.78

Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom

Lawrence W. Levine

SELECTION	jo/ Black Culture and Black Consciousness
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1977.

Excerpt

If North American slavery eroded the Africans' linguistic and institutional life, it nevertheless allowed them to continue and to develop the ans have not yet fully come to terms with what the continuance of the

It is significant that the most common form of slave music we know of is sacred song, I use the term "sacred" not in its present usage as something bears ever drew modernity's clear line between the sacred and the secular. The uses to which spirituals were put are an unmistakable indication of this. They were not sung solely or even primarily in churches or praise houses but were used as rowing songs, field songs, work songs, and social songs. Seated in a long cypress bark canoe on the Altaniaha River in Georgia in 1845, Sir Charles Lyell listened to the six slave rowers improvise songs complimenting their master's family and celebrating a black woman of the neighborhood bv comparing her beautv to that of the red bird. "Occasionally they struck up a hvmn, taught them by the Methodists, in which the most sacred subjects were handled with strange familiarity, and which, though nothing irreverent was meant, sounded oddh' to our ears, and, when following a love ditty, almost profane."^ Mary Dickson Arrowood recalled slave boatmen in the late 1850s singing the following spirituals which, characteristically, were as congenial to the work

Breddrcn, don' git weary, Breddrcn, don' git weary, Breddrcn, don' git weary, Fo' de work is most done.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Levine, Lawrence W. *Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1977.

Footnote citation:

Lawrence W. Levine, *Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom* (Oxford University Press, 1977), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Levine, *Black Culture and Black Consciousness*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.79

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

SELECTION	AMERICAN SLAVERY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 138–139 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

Ill

Historians examining the lives and behavior of antebellum slaves have disagreed on numerous points, but they have been virtually unanimous in finding that Elkins erred in depicting a world in which slaves had no "meaningful others" aside from their masters. Of course, slaves lived under widely varying conditions, and some may have experienced the totally controlled, "closed" system described by Elkins. For the vast majority, however, slavery never provided such a hermetically sealed environment; beings who were in theory totally dependent on their masters were able in practice to forge a semi-autonomous world, based on a multiplicity of social relation¬ ships, which accentuated their own distinctive customs and values. In this endeavor, they looked for support most of all to their families and their religion.

Families provided a crucial if fragile buffer, shielding slaves from the worst rigors of slavery. Although the transatlantic slave trade, exceptionally high mortality rates, and the excess of men over women among newly imported slaves decimated African fam¬ ilies, the emergence of a predominantly creole slave population created the basic preconditions for family re-creation. A new African- American family structure took root in the eighteenth century and spread throughout the South, along with slavery, in the nineteenth. Those families were not, of course, untouched by slavery. Even under the best of circumstances, slave families lacked the institu¬ tional and legal support enjoyed by those that were free, and in extreme cases masters could not only hinder but prevent the de¬ velopment of normal family relations; Frederick Douglass, taken from his mother as an infant, recalled it as "a common custom, in the part of Maryland from which I ran away, to part children from their mothers at a very early age."4 But historians now know that in the South as a whole, separation of young children from their mothers was relatively unusual. Antebellum slaves lived in families, legally recognized or not, and the majority of slave children grew up with their mothers and—somewhat less often—their fathers.

Slave owners were usually aware of, and considered themselves strong supporters of, slave families. Motivated by both a paternalistic concern for the well-being of their "people" and a calculating regard for their own economic interest, slave owners paid increasing atten¬ tion to the family lives of their slaves. Antebellum masters usually assigned one slave family (much less often two) to a cabin, grouped slaves according to families in plantation censuses, and promoted "family morality" among their people in a variety of ways, including punishing adultery and divorce, insisting on early marriage, allowing (or not allowing) marriage "abroad," and less often purchasing spouses of favored servants. The actions of the masters were in many ways contradictory: they not only supported slave families but also disrupted them, through forced separations and forced sex. Still, their actions as supporters served to some extent to limit the impact of their actions as disrupters, and to make possible, despite the hostile environment, a family life among slaves that was vital if con¬ stantly at risk. Indeed, historians Robert W. Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman have gone so far as to attribute the strength of antebellum slave families primarily to the support they received from slave owners.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kolchin, Peter. *American Slavery, 1619-1877*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Peter Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877* (Hill and Wang, 1993), 138–139.

Shortened citation:

Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877*, 138–139.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.80

Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community

Vanessa M. Holden

SELECTION	Generation, Resistance, and Survival: African American Children and the Southampton Rebellion
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Excerpt

On October 30, 1831, weeks after Moses stood trial, a local farmer discovered Nat Turner in a dugout cave very near Cabin Pond and the Travis place. Justices tried Turner on November 5, 1831. After delivering a swift guilty verdict, they remanded Turner to jail to await execution on November 11, 1831. With his capture and hanging, many whites pronounced that the rebellion was over. White officials used the court system to quell the fears of the white public. They even managed to demonstrate their version of civility through acts of mercy. They also effectively used court proceedings to reestablish, preserve, and project their mastery. Although executing Black children was by no means off limits, the justices of the county court may have felt that the four young people were too young to be held accountable for the decisions of adults. But perhaps the justices were in denial. Saying that enslaved children were easily influenced by the Black adults they knew would have been one way for the justices to project control. Children were the embodied future of slavery. If the justices had admitted that they could be willing rebels and participants in the carnage, they would have been acknowledging that children actively endeavored to emancipate themselves. Purposeful rebellion on the part of enslaved children had to remain unimaginable for Southampton whites. Thus, recommending mercy while pronouncing guilt was a successful strategy for the justices to use, one that preserved their future dominance.

Only four of the hundreds of enslaved children present in the neighborhood that was home to the Southampton Rebellion stood trial. The governor commuted the sentences of all four to transfer from the state. Although these boys and youths disappeared, others were left behind to continue with chores, fieldwork, and labor. Others yet to be born, like Allen Crawford, would speak about the rebellion's impact on their lives into the twentieth century. While whites struggled to suppress memories of the event, African Americans in Virginia continued to talk about Nat Turner's legacy in a local colloquialism. Cornelia Carney remembered from her childhood that adults would say, "White folks was sharp too, but not sharp enough to git by ole Nat." She explained that "ole folks used to say it all de time. De meaning' I git is dat de n——s could always out-smart de white folks." And so children would carry the importance of the Southampton Rebellion into the future in their memories of past generations.

Analyzing the roles that children played in African American communities in the antebellum South, as laborers in proximity to adults and as trial witnesses, brings a deeper understanding of the Southampton Rebellion. Free or enslaved, the children and youths of Southampton County were important to the event and to its traumatic aftermath. It is clear from the trials of Nathan, Tom, Davy, and Moses that adult male rebels decided to bring them along. Each witnessed violence and each suffered being severed from their community through transport after the rebellion. Whether they were rebels or witnesses, neither Black nor white adults overlooked them in the local context of the rebellion. Their role in their community involved observing adults as they resisted slavery.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Holden, Vanessa M. *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Vanessa M. Holden, *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community* (University of Illinois Press, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Holden, *Surviving Southampton*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.81

The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930

Anne Firor Scott

SELECTION	Discontent
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 53–54 · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 1970.

Excerpt

Few southern women appreciated the argument of a South Carolina gentleman who thought the availability of slave women avoided the horrors of prostitution. He pointed out that men could satisfy their sexual needs while increas ing their slave property.[29] The bitterness of southern women on this subject came out again and again. One spoke of "violations of the moral law that made mulattoes as com mon as blackberries," and suggested that the four years of bloody war was a fit penance for so many sins.[30] "I saw slavery in its bearing on my sex," wrote another. "I saw that it teemed with injustice and shame to all womankind and I hated it." 31

There was an undercurrent of concern about venereal dis ease. The fiction women wrote and read was full of myste riously disillusioned brides and dissolute men. A North Caro lina student in the 1840s could remark without comment that the university was "never free from clap." Conversely, the exaggerated praise heaped upon "pure" men reflected something more than admiration of good character. It was an index to the anxiety of women endangered by their husbands. Primitive medical knowledge offered little protec tion to the wives of men whose visits to the slave quarters left them diseased.

Miscegenation was only one grievance. Women felt deeply aggrieved by the prevailing double standard. The con ventions of nineteenth-century discourse make precise evi dence difficult to come by, but veiled comments suggest that many women found the social standards governing sexual life hard to accept. The accepted belief w ac that nnly mpn qnd depraved women were sexual cre*fll™"g and fV>af pl,re women were incapable of erotic feeling. The inadequacy of this description is made apparent in fiction, biography, per sonal documents, and court records.

Author's Notes

29. Chancellor Harper, "Memoir on Slavery," Southern Literary Jour nal, February 1838, p. 1.

30. Rebecca Latimer Felton, Country Lije in Georgia, in the Days of My Youth, p. 79.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Scott, Anne Firor. *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1970.

Footnote citation:

Anne Firor Scott, *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930* (University of Chicago Press, 1970), 53–54.

Shortened citation:

Scott, *The Southern Lady*, 53–54.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.82

Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 16–17 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

Yet the South was not always a biracial or slave society. From the founding at Jamestown to the reign of Charles II it had been as homogeneous as the New England communities continued to be until the Irish invasion of the nineteenth century. With a valuable commodity to sell—tobacco—Virginians first employed apprentices and indentured servants. By such means masters could maintain the honor of unsoiled hands exclusively for themselves. But labor shortages developed in the latter half of the seventeenth century. The supply of poor immigrants declined. There was no choice but to buy Africans in the marketplace. Thereafter whites who did migrate southward, particularly the Scots-Irish in the eighteenth century, settled less often as bonded servants than as free peasants. They either subsisted in the uplands as squatters or smallholders or else ambitiously sought to become slaveowners themselves. They too, no less than Tidewater planters, were imbued with the principles of honor.

At first the legal status of the imported Africans was rather uncertain. In a sense, such confusions did not matter greatly. What was important was that servants—regardless of their standing in law—did the indispensable labor. Probably the introduction of Africans was a reluctant step because of the long-standing distaste of English people for the culture, color, and language of a folk so different from themselves. But what mattered to the whites, as to Hawthorne's Authority, was power, honor, and respect, for which riches and a body of menials were essential no less than in New or Old England of the same era.

Even in the Boston that Hawthorne described, slavery existed without much comment one way or the other. In 1701 Judge Samuel Sewall of Boston offered some pious criticism, but he was at once challenged by an advocate of the acceptability of bondage in the eyes of God.[12] In other communities, even among the Quakers above and below the Potomac, the holding of Africans in perpetual chains aroused little if any initial complaint. But in the eastern provinces, climate, economic tendencies, and, to some degree, a moderate rather than intense commitment to honor hobbled largescale use of Africans. For the most part, the healthier air of New England and the Middle Colonies drew sufficient numbers of laborers from familiar Old World sources.

These thoughts, induced by a close reading of Hawthorne's text, outline a basic premise of this study: the distinct existence of honor apart from a particular system of labor, a special region of the country, and a specific time in history. Just as Hawthorne universalized the point of his narrative, so we too must see honor as greater, longer, and more tenacious than it has been viewed before, at least in relation to the slaveholding South. It was not merely a Southern phenomenon, though in that part of the continent its tenets were more sacrosanct, more integral to the whole culture than they were elsewhere. After all, in the South today devotion to family and country, restrictive views of women's place and role, attitudes about racial hierarchy, and the subordination of all to community values still remain in the popular mind to an extent not altogether duplicated in the rest of the land. Hawthorne, were he alive to observe this set of Southern patterns, would not be at all surprised. His mythic vision points to the endurance of popular morality against the forces of change.

Author's Notes

11. Richard B. Onians, The Origins of European Thought about the Body, the Mind, the Soul, the World, Time, and Fate (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1954), p. xvii. See also Lionel Rothkrug, Religious Practices and Collective Perceptions: Hidden Homologies in the Renaissance and Reformation, in Historical Reflections/Reflexions Historiques 1 (Spring 1980), a fascinating study of cultural continuities.

12. Walker Percy, "Mississippi: The Fallen Paradise," Harper's 230 (April 1965): 170, 171.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Wyatt-Brown, Bertram. *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (Oxford University Press, 1982), 16–17.

Shortened citation:

Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor*, 16–17.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.83

The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South

Catherine Clinton

SELECTION	THE SEXUAL DYNAMICS OF SLAVERY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 201–202 · Supplied edition: Pantheon Books, 1982.

Excerpt

At the same time, the sexual exploitation of black men and women by their white owners was in no way comparable. Both male and female slaves were sexually manipulated by owners; records show that slaves were forced into unwanted liaisons with each other, reflecting white owner could force any black woman who was his property to husband who was being humiliated and to the wife who was being be equated with the force of sex to which female slaves were subjected. The notion that slavery "equalized" men and women, if only negafamihar denizen of the Big House is not merely a stereotype, but in fact a figment of the combined romantic imaginations of the contemporary southern ideologue and the modern southern historian. Records do acknowledge the presence of female slaves who served as the "right hand" of plantation mistresses. Yet documents from the planter class only a handful of such examples. Not until after Emancipation did black women run white households or occupy in any significant number Mammy was created by white Southerners to redeem the relationship between black women and white men within slave society in response to the antislavery attack from the North during the ante-bellum era, and to embelhsh it with nostalgia in the post-bellum period. In the primary records from before the Civil War, hard evidence for her existence simply does not appear.

The Mammy was the positive emblem of familial relations between black and white. She existed as a counterpoint to the octoroon concubine, the light-skinned product of a "white man's lust" who was habitually victimized by slaveowners' sexual appetites. In addition, the Mammy was integral to the white males' emasculation of slavery, since she and she alone projected an image of power wielded by blacks her importance was derived from her alleged influence over whites; in within slave society: idealized by the master class, a trumped-up, not a triumphant, figure in the mythologizing of slavery. Southern orators who alluded to being "suckled at black breasts" were not, as they hoped, simply estabhshing a tender family feehng between the races with this image of interracial innocence. The vision in fact evoked far more than those spokesmen had bargained for; first and foremost, its erotic component cannot be denied. Whether intensexual rather than a sentimental undercurrent. Second, the image reduced black women to an animal-like state of exploitation: Mammies were to be milked, warm bodies to serve white needs—an image with its own sexual subtext. The Mammy does not, by any means, vahdate the "closeness" of the races. After slavery and within the household, black and white women perhaps were able to forge an alliance. But a legacy of resentment as well as sexual competition remained.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Clinton, Catherine. *The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1982.

Footnote citation:

Catherine Clinton, *The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South* (Pantheon Books, 1982), 201–202.

Shortened citation:

Clinton, *The Plantation Mistress*, 201–202.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.84

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

SELECTION	THREE: “Missus Done Her Own Bossing”
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 60–61 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

The confl icts that arose between Maria and Elisha Betts over matters largely related to slave mastery bedeviled other households in the South. This was especially true in cases where husbands and wives each owned personal slaves or when women owned slaves over which their husbands had no legal authority. Formerly enslaved people routinely refl ected upon encounters between slaveowning women, their spouses, their employees, and others. Although they rarely if ever used the term “master” to describe their female owners, formerly enslaved witnesses frequently characterized their mistresses as effective managers and disciplinarians and described their behavior with the same terms they used for slaveholding men. Harriet Collins spoke of her mistress as a “powerful manager” who “was sho’ good… iffen you work and do like she tell you.” Such a statement could be taken as referring simply to household management, but Collins also spoke of how her mistress managed her slaves beyond the household. Her mistress, recalled Collins, would “go round [the quarters] to see dat all was alright” each evening and was a “powerful good nuss” to boot. Collins’s female owner, in fact, did more than a master; she assumed the responsibilities that mistresses, masters, and plantation overseers typically handled. Formerly enslaved people also remembered their female owners as powerful disciplinarians who used a variety of techniques that resembled those of male slave owners. Addy Gill was enslaved in Millburnie, North Carolina, and she recalled that her mistress Louise Krenshaw “done the whuppin on Mr. Krenshaw’s plantation an she was mighty rough at times.” As we shall see, other enslaved men and women recalled mistresses who meted out calculated, systematic, and rationalized violence and discipline, not as masters’ subordinates and surrogates but as slave owners in their own right who possessed the authority to do so.[8]

But in their testimony formerly enslaved people emphasized that mastery did not always involve brute strength or physically violent methods of discipline. The (typically male) slaveholders who submitted commentary to the South’s most widely circulating agricultural journals, such as DeBow’s Review and the Southern Planter, generally agreed that the most skilled slave masters could command submission without resorting to brutality. By this argument, white women could also be masters of slaves without resorting to brutal methods of control.

Yet despite the recollections of formerly enslaved people concerning female owners who made sure they did their work, and despite contemporary recognition of white women as slave owners in their own right within southern communities and by courts, historians have contended that white women could not be true “masters” of slaves. They could be masters of household operations. They could be “fi ctive masters.” They could be “masterful.” But they did not possess the strength or power to make a servile class submit to their will. According to the historian Elizabeth Fox- Genovese, white women “could not exercise mastery of their own slaves, much less contribute to the control of the slaves in their communities” because “the law—not to mention the social emphasis placed on male governance of the household and its members—discouraged women from managing slaves.” These social and legal impediments, she contends, “sharply limited the practical and psychological effectiveness of [slaveholding women’s] discipline.” Furthermore, enslaved people associated physical violence and punishment with white men, be they slave owners or overseers, a situation that undercut any attempts by white women to acquire mastery over their slaves. A white woman, even if she owned slaves, “was no ‘massa.’” Yet Fox- Genovese admits that “as slaves would have been the fi rst to insist, and as both male and female slaveholders well knew, mistresses could very well be the devil. A mean mistress stood second to no master in her cruelty, although her strength was less.” This was particularly

characteristic of white women's relationships with enslaved women in their household, for "on the grounds of physical strength they were less likely than men to kill them."[9]

Some historians contest the idea that women could not manage or discipline enslaved people effectively; however, they too differentiate between white women and white men's domination of enslaved people.[10] William Foster, for example, contends that slave- owning women developed and engaged in a uniquely female form of mastery, in which they interacted with and disciplined enslaved people as they would their own children.[11] But if we look carefully at slave- owning women's management styles, we fi nd that these differed little from those used by slaveholding men—and they rarely treated enslaved people like their children.

Author's Notes

7. Seventh and Eighth Censuses of the United States, Barbour County, Alabama, Division 23, Schedule 1 (free inhabitants) and Schedule 2 (slave inhabitants) and Alabama, Secretary of State. U.S. Census Non- population Schedules, Alabama, 1850– 1880. Alabama Department of Archives and History, Montgomery (Provo, Utah: Ancestry.com Operations, Inc., 2010), online database.

8. Harriet Collins, in BS, vol. 16, Texas Narratives, Part 1, 243; Addy Gill, in BS, vol. 11, North Carolina Narratives, Part 1, 326.

9. Fox- Genovese, Within the Plantation Household, 97, 205–206, 61.

10. See, e.g., Glymph, Out of the House of Bondage, 18–32.

11. William Henry Foster, Gender, Mastery, and Slavery, 8, 15. On this point see also Walter Johnson, River of Dark Dreams, 192–198, and Ariela Gross, Double Character,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones-Rogers, Stephanie E. *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2019.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South* (Yale University Press, 2019), 60–61.

Shortened citation:

Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property*, 60–61.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.85

Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South

Deborah Gray White

SELECTION	HAPTER ONE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 27–28 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton, 1985.

Excerpt

Jezebel and Mammy:

The Mythology of Female Slavery

The uniqueness of the African-American female's situation is that she stands at the crossroads of two of the most welldeveloped ideologies in America, that regarding women and that regarding the Negro. Although much of the race and sex ideas were molded into a peculiarly American mythology. As if by design, white males have been the primary beneficiaries of both sets of myths which, not surprisingly, contain common elements in that both blacks and women are characterized as infantile, irresponsible, submissive, and promiscuous. Both blacks and women have generally been dependent politically and economically upon white men. Both groups are consigned to roles that are subservient, both groups have shared a relationship of powerlessness vis-a-vis white males, and both groups, as a matter of automatic response, have been treated as outsiders and inferiors. The black woman's position at the nexus of America's sex and race mythology has made it most difficult for her to escape the mythology. Black men can be rescued from the myth of the Negro, indeed, as has been noted, this seems to have been one of the aims of the historical scholarship on slavery in the aggressive, with things dominant. White women, as part of the dominant racial group, have to defy the myth of woman, confronts the biack woman. If she is rescued from the myth of the Negro, the myth of woman traps her. If she escapes the myth of woman, the myth of the Negro still ensnares her.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

White, Deborah Gray. Ar'n't I a Woman? Female Slaves in the Plantation South. Rev. ed. New York: W. W. Norton, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Deborah Gray White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South* (W. W. Norton, 1985), 27–28.

Shortened citation:

White, *Ar'n't I a Woman?*, 27–28.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.86

Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese

SELECTION	Southern Women, Southern Households
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 97–98 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Excerpt

The complex class relations of southern society confronted slaveholding women with special problems. To take their own favorite example, plantation mistresses carried heavy responsibilities for overseeing the work of house slaves. The tensions between mistress and servant could run high, all the way from angry blows to companionship. The law—not to mention the social emphasis placed on male governance of the household and its members—discouraged women from managing slaves. The law never formally prohibited, and in fact the men's frequent absences encouraged, women's everyday management of plantations. But both the law and the tradition of male dominance sharply limited the practical and psychological effectiveness of their discipline. The master normally administered the heavy punishments, and the slaves knew it. Slave men often challenged masters and overseers, but usually not in the way that Hampton challenged Sarah Gayle. As slaves would have been the first to insist, and as both male and female slaveholders well knew, mistresses could be the very devil. A mean mistress stood second to no master in her cruelty, although her strength was less. Most mistresses managed slave women rather than slave men, for most of the house servants were female, and in the absence of the master most mistresses relied on overseers or drivers to discipline the field hands. Thus, although mistresses could and did brutally abuse their female slaves, on grounds of physical strength they were less likely than men to kill them. The plantation mistress's class and race enabled her to tell slaves what to do, to try to get them to do it, and to box or whip them if they did not. But her gender plainly informed them that she was no "massa."

If black and even white southern women were known to rail against "massa" and the system that empowered him, they did not do so in the language of bourgeois feminism or in the spirit of its content. In the case of black slave women, the objects of resistance and revolt increasingly focused on the violent repudiation of the system and on the assertion of their own wills and personal worth. Class and racial struggles assumed priority over the gender struggle, even though class and racial struggles might be experienced and expressed in genderspecific, and indeed sex-specific, ways. Black slave women's primary gender struggles concerned their relations with black men, although these struggles, too, were deeply affected by their common confrontation with white men and women. The gender struggles of white slaveholding women also primarily concerned their relations with the men of their own race and class. But those struggles did not assume the forms or use the language developed by the early northern feminists. The hard truth is that slave and slaveholding women occupied antagonistic positions, frequently mediated by complex and conflicted personal relations. The experience, consciousness, and goals of yeoman women complicate the picture further, for they had their own antagonisms to both slave and slaveholding women, and perhaps some bonds with both.

Rural southern women of all classes and races shared a distaste for housework and an uneasy relation to the bourgeois and evangelical virtues of work, thrift, and cleanliness. Critical visitors to the South concurred that slavery was inimical to bourgeois domesticity. Northern bourgeois literature featured the kitchen as the heart of the household, the mother's empire. In the kitchen, housework became nurture and the woman's prescribed toil became a mission of love. Southern literature, like southern architecture, honored the kitchen by expelling it from the house. Whereas New Englanders had developed their houses, including the kitchens, in conjunction with the development of capitalist agriculture, southerners, beginning in the seventeenth century, developed theirs by banishing the kitchen to a separate building. Slaveholding women visited the kitchen and supervised its denizens, but did not

linger. Slave women primarily worked in the kitchens of others, preparing food for others, although at least some slave cooks took much more pride in the kitchen than their mistresses did. Slave women also cooked over open fires for their own families in the quarters, where they did not have kitchens at all. For both slave and slaveholding women, their positions as wives and mothers remained divorced from the labors of domesticity with which those positions were closely linked even in the rural sectors of the bourgeois North.

Southern women, black and white, lived largely within the confines of the plantation households that embodied the fundamental relations of southern slave society. Their confinement, which should not be confused with the domestic confinement of middle-class northeastern women, bound them in the explosive intimacy of a shared world but not in a woman's sphere.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fox-Genovese, Elizabeth. *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Footnote citation:

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South* (University of North Carolina Press, 1988), 97–98.

Shortened citation:

Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household*, 97–98.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.87

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

SELECTION	FOUR: “She Thought She Could Find a Better Market”
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 82–83 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

Formerly enslaved people frequently spoke about this more expansive slave market. For them, the slave market was a mobile, spatially unbounded economic network that connected urban commercial districts to plantation estates and incorporated boardinghouses, rural pathways, urban streets, taverns, and coffee shops, as well as holding pens and auction houses. They also saw slaveholding households—their porches, kitchens, dining rooms, and bedrooms— and the fi elds and the quarters, along with the pathways and roads surrounding them, as fundamental parts of the slave market. In all these places, slave- owning women orchestrated the sale and purchase of enslaved people. Not only did slave- owning women participate in the public haggling over black bodies in the slave pen, the slave yard, and the auction block, they frequently subjected enslaved people to the terror of the slave market in the privacy of their homes. While slave traders, auctioneers, and brokers prepared enslaved people for sale by the sides of country roads, in southern auction houses, and in slave- trading establishments, white women talked with friends and family members about their labor needs and their desire to buy or sell enslaved men, women, and children. They were often able to fulfi ll that desire without visiting a brick- andmortar marketplace because this process often took place—or at least began— in their homes.

Historians of the southern slave market view it as corrosive, corrupting, sexually charged, and brutal, and many claim that it was considered too abhorrent a place for white women to visit. But when women chose to hire, buy, or sell enslaved people in or near their homes and beyond the formal marketplace, they were not avoiding the “perceived sexual and social disorder” associated with these markets; the plantation landscape was itself marked by that disorder.

On any given day, white women and girls could witness white men and women committing violent acts upon the nude and partially exposed bodies of enslaved people in their households and their fi elds. Lizzie Anna Burwell, the child who at age three wanted to replace her enslaved companion, lived in a household where her father, John A. Burwell, beat her mother, Lucy, and ran the “negroes about with guns & sticks,” something he claimed to do “out of fun.” He openly engaged in an extramarital affair with and quite likely sexually assaulted an enslaved woman who belonged to his wife. On one occasion, he told his wife that he had no intention of “sharing her bed that night; but would occupy a different room.” Then, in the presence of his wife, his sons, and his daughters, including Lizzie Anna, who was not yet twelve, he summoned an enslaved female to his room, where he allegedly “required [her] attendance” and she “remained in the room with him during the night.” This same enslaved female had “within a few years past been the mother of two children, the offspring of a white father,” and Lucy believed that John had fathered them. Such incidents make it clear that the social and sexual disorder that characterized southern slave markets also pervaded slaveholding households.

The slaveholding household was a place of coerced production and reproduction, racial and sexual exploitation, and physical and psychological violence.[7] It was a place where white southern women grew accustomed to the violence of slavery, contemplated the sale and purchase of slaves, and used the bodies of the enslaved people they owned in ways that reinforced their pecuniary value. The household became an extension of the slave market, and white women capitalized upon their access to both. They not only “did the thinking about slave buying,” taking stock of their labor needs and the kinds of workers who could meet them, they orchestrated the sale, purchase, and exchange of slaves in these domestic spaces. When they were ready to fi nalize their decisions, they summoned slave traders to their homes

to transact their business. The argument that white southern women were alienated from slave markets and immune to the machinations of the trade seems far- fetched in the face of the ubiquity of slave traders and speculators and their business in urban and rural landscapes, as well as in private homes. White slave- owning women frequently did not need to go to the slave market because the slave market came to them.

Author's Notes

3. Walter Johnson, for example, chose not to use the testimony of formerly enslaved people documented by the FWP in the 1930s; see his Soul by Soul, 9–10, 226n24. More recently, however, historians such as Edward Baptist, Calvin Schermerhorn, and Daina Ramey Berry have centered such testimony in their studies of southern slave markets and the trade; see Baptist, The Half Has Never Been Told, Schermerhorn, The Business of Slavery, and Berry, The Price for Their Pound of Flesh.

4. "she thought she could find a better market" Chapter title: Lydia M. Child, "Selections: Charity Bowery," in North Star, March 3, 1848.

7. "her slaves have been liberated and lost to her" Chapter title: Elizabeth A. Bailey, by her Next Friend Hawkey F. Harris v. Richard C. Bailey, October 1866, Ended Chancery Court Causes, Library of Virginia, Richmond, RSP- 2.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones-Rogers, Stephanie E. *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2019.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South* (Yale University Press, 2019), 82–83.

Shortened citation:

Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property*, 82–83.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.88

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

However, brutality did not constitute the whole of slaves' bodily experience. For those who encounter oppression through the body, the body becomes an important site not only of su√ering but also (and therefore) of enjoyment and resistance.∫ Studying the body through a framework of containment and transgression grants us access to new perspectives on resistance and the workings of gender di√erence within enslaved plantation communities.

three bodies

The body, French historian Dorinda Outram has written, is at once the most personal, intimate thing that people possess and the most public. The body, then, can provide and has provided a "basic political resource" in struggles between dominant and subordinate classes. Second-wave feminists said that the personal is political, but earlier, C. L. R. James had already argued that the twentieth century's working people "are rebelling everyday in ways of their own invention" in order to "regain control over their own conditions of life and their relations with one another." James found that often "their struggles are on a small personal scale." Enslaved people's everyday battles for "regaining" a measure of "control" took place on very "personal" terrain: their bodies.Ω Thinking about enslaved bodies in space allows us to see them materially, to watch as the prime implement of labor in the Old South moved in ways inconsistent with the rigors of agricultural production. Attention to the body also facilitates thinking about issues beyond the material, such as the roles of movement and pleasure in the culture of opposition developed by enslaved people. A somatic approach, such as the one employed here, risks objectifying people, but my purpose is the opposite: to demonstrate how enslaved people claimed, animated, politicized, personalized, and enjoyed their bodies—flesh that was regarded by much of American society as no more than biddable property.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Camp, Stephanie M. H. *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie M. H. Camp, *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South* (University of North Carolina Press, 2004), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Camp, *Closer to Freedom*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.89

Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country

Stephanie McCurry

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 123–124 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

Yeoman women had little reason to venture into plantation mistresses' social orbit nor the latter into theirs. Little by way of sustained relations typically developed between different classes of free women, judging by the silence on the subject in mistresses' diaries. With the exception of women like Mary Wall, whose midwifery skills were in constant demand on neighboring plantations, yeoman women seem, for the most part, to have left the exchange of labor and goods (even those of their own making) to the men. The one task that might have brought them to the door of the big house was, at least according to the testimony of former slaves, that which men would have found most distasteful: the explicit request for charitable assistance. Perhaps in an attempt to keep dependence running in the gendered channels fit for it by history and nature, yeoman husbands sent their wives to make requests for aid. Such occasions were, however, infrequent, and planter women's ties to nonelite women were, judging by their own accounts, largely confined to those few who fell, usually by reason of poverty, within their household domain.[55] Yeoman women were not prominent among that client population. The material independence of their households precluded the necessity, and the respect accorded the boundaries of such households precluded the practice. For their part, planter women had little reason or inclination to intrude on yeoman households on errands charitable or otherwise, and there is little evidence—virtually none—that they did so.

No less than yeoman women, planter women's social relations and gender identity were configured by the household, its boundaries, and the power relations it embodied. In the complex web of relations that at once subordinated wives to their husbands and conferred on them the irreducible power of a mistress over slaves was the gender identity of planter women situated, and its ideological expression—the southern lady—discursively located.[56] The bonds of sex or ties between women which that identity envisioned were those that bound mistress to slave woman. Whatever religious and social responsibilities planter ladies incurred to the less fortunate were to be fulfilled, as ministers, editors, and almost every other male authority insisted, within their own households with those who stood in explicit relations of legal or customary dependency. Little by way of public benevolence was expected of planter women—indeed, little was permitted—and little was performed.[57] The responsibilities of plantation mistresses did not extend typically to neighboring yeoman households. Yeoman men would hardly have suffered the intrusion lightly even if their wives would have, which is not at all clear.

Author's Notes

53. Minute Book, Gum Branch Baptist Church, [Darlington District] March 16, 1844, July 13, 1849, SCL.

54. Elizabeth Finisher to Nancy H. Cowen, August 23, 1846, Nancy H. Cowan Papers, Perkins Library, DU.

55. Poor white women were, on occasion, attached as dependents to plantation households. See, for example, the cases mentioned in the following planter women's diaries: W. Emerson Wilson, ed., Plantation Life at Rose Hill: The Diaries of Martha Ogle Forman, 1814—1845 (Wilmington: The Historical Society of Delaware 1976), pp. 22, 420; Kate Virginia Cox Logan, My Confederate. Girlhood, ed. Lily Logan Morrill (New York: Arno Press, 1980), p. 16.

56. On planter women and the southern ideology of womanhood see the following: Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988); Anne Firor Scott, The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1970); Catherine Clinton, The Plantation Mistress: Women's World in the Old South (New York: Pantheon Books, 1982); Jean E. Friedman, The Enclosed Garden: Women and Community in the Evangelical South, 1830-1900 (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1985); Sarah E. Moss, '"Our Earnest Appeal': The Southern Domestic Novelists and Their Literary Defense of Southern Culture, 1833-1866" (Ph.D. Diss., Washington University, 1989).

57. The matter of women and religion is taken up at greater length in Chapters 4 and 5.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

McCurry, Stephanie. *Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Stephanie McCurry, *Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country* (Oxford University Press, 1995), 123–124.

Shortened citation:

McCurry, *Masters of Small Worlds*, 123–124.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.01

Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845

Catherine A. Brekus

SELECTION	Recovering the History of Female Preaching in America
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 10–11 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Finally, I looked at a wide variety of other books and manuscripts in order to reconstruct the vibrancy of eighteenth- and nineteenth-century evangelical culture. Local histories helped me to imagine the small, outlying towns and villages where women often preached; clergymen's diaries o√ered colorful descriptions of boisterous camp meetings and revivals; and denominational histories helped clarify questions of church doctrine. After reading several polemical tracts against female preaching and sermons on women's "natural" domesticity, I began to realize the intensity of the clerical debates over women's right to speak in public.

All of these records have helped me to piece together the story that I tell in this book, but much to my frustration, many o√ered me only the most fleeting glimpses of female preachers. For example, while reading the diary of William Smyth Babcock, a Freewill Baptist minister, I found a brief sketch of Nancy Mitchell, "a celebrated Preacher in this & the neighbouring towns; whose character for truth is very doubtful."∞∂ Intrigued by this tantalizing description, I searched for Mitchell's name in countless numbers of periodicals, church records, and clerical memoirs, but to my disappointment, I never found another mention of her. Who was she? Why did Babcock question her "character"? And why was she so "celebrated"? I will never know. Such have been the challenges of writing a history of "strangers and pilgrims" who never "received the promise" of historical fame.

Recovering the stories of these pioneering female preachers sheds new light on many of the most important debates about the history of women and the history of religion in America. In some ways, of course, their stories simply confirm what scholars have long known or suspected about eighteenth- and nineteenth-century American culture. For example, few religious historians will be surprised to learn that evangelicals o√ered women one of their few opportunities for public leadership, nor will many women's historians be shocked to learn that ordinary women often violated the "cult of domesticity." In that sense, this book builds on a wealth of critical scholarship published over the last twenty-five years.

Yet the history of female preaching also expands and challenges our understandings of the American past. As feminist historians have argued time and again, integrating women into history involves more than merely pasting them into previous grand narratives of political events. "The e√ort to conceptualize women's history as a collection of 'missing facts and views' to be incorporated into the empty spaces of traditional history is too limited, even fallacious," Gerda Lerner has written.∞∑ Since women's experiences often do not fit into the conventional categories for understanding American history, we must learn how to ask new questions and create new paradigms. In some cases, adding women to history simply bolsters our commonly accepted interpretations, but in others, it requires us to rethink our assumptions about the e√ects of cultural, political, economic, and religious change.

When seen through the eyes of women as well as men, the eighteenthcentury revivals, collectively labeled the Great Awakening, look particularly significant, even extraordinary, but also surprisingly ephemeral. For the first time in American history, large numbers of evangelical women spoke publicly in their churches, and for a few brief years, they seemed to stand on the verge of a new era of female religious leadership. Within a decade, however, most evangelical churches in New England and the South tried to prevent women from testifying or witnessing, and during the American Revolution, they drew sharper lines between the "masculine" and the "feminine," the public and the private. Contrary to what I had originally expected, fewer women seem to have been allowed to preach during the

Revolution—the celebrated era of the common man—than during the earlier revivals. Even though the Great Awakening decisively influenced the future shape of American culture, especially in breaking down colonial habits of deference and hierarchy, it ultimately did not change the gendered lines of authority within the churches.

Besides illuminating the short-lived radicalism of the Great Awakening, the stories of female preachers also o√er a unique perspective on nineteenthcentury revivalism. In many ways, the presence of large numbers of white and black women in the pulpit seems to o√er evidence of the democratization of American Christianity. Intoxicated by the republican rhetoric of equality, the Methodists, African Methodists, Christian Connection, Freewill Baptists, and Millerites insisted that the distinctions of race, class, and sex were less important than whether or not one had been "saved." As historian Nathan Hatch has argued, the revivals of the Second Great Awakening (1790–1845) represented an "explosive conjunction of evangelical fervor and popular sovereignty," "an upsurge of democratic hope."∞∏ Populist and egalitarian, they helped transform America into a liberal, competitive, and market-driven society.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Brekus, Catherine A. *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Catherine A. Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), 10–11.

Shortened citation:

Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims*, 10–11.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.02

Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt

Christine Leigh Heyrman

SELECTION	others and Others in Israel
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 167–168 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

perfect love of God" at an Eastern Shore gathering. Women were singled out to exercise such gifts by congregational acclaim and with full clerical approval. It was a point of pride for Joseph Travis, another Methodist itinerant, that his mother's "talent in public prayer was rather extraordinary," and that "Many a time has she been called upon to conclude a meeting, after preaching, by a prayer." His colleague in Kentucky, Henry Smith, likewise observed that during a revival at the turn of the century, "all of our praying men and women were in great demand.... [T]hose who could sing and pray as though they would bring down Heaven's blessings by strong faith... were called upon."® A few evangelical preachers hoped to win for white women an even wider scope for the public exercise of their spiritual gifts. Some early Methodists argued that white women should be permitted to preach, an oral performance distinct from exhorting in that it entailed expounding a biblical text. The inspiration for those views came, in part, from the practice of the first English Methodists, who allowed women to serve as local preachers.

But a more immediate influence, as Stith Mead acknowledged, was the early Methodist clergy's admiration for silver-tongued southern Quaker women: "I have uniformly, since obtaining the true spirit of religion been, from my plain dress in apparel, taken to be one of that society by some of the Quaker Friends," he remarked proudly, because of "my aversion to National War and Negro Slavery, and acquiescence to female preaching." Yet Mead's enthusiasm for female preachers, if not wholly singular among southern evangelicals, was never widely shared by either the clergy or the laity. From their first appearance in the South, most Methodists as well as Baptists stopped short of endorsing preaching by women of any age or race. Although many women served as local preachers among Methodists in late-eighteenth-century England, and the ranks of upstate New York's early Baptists included a few female itinerants, there is no evidence that southern women, Methodist or Baptist, preached in their own neighborhoods or abroad.

Among southern churches, only the Quakers permitted women to preach, and even within their ranks support for the practice among male Friends was withering rapidly after 1800.° Early evangelical churches also strictly limited the participation of women in matters of governance. Lay Methodists, regardless of their gender or race, played no role in selecting preachers or, before about 1800, accepting new members and expelling wayward ones. By contrast, lay those powers, although some churches permitted white female and black members a role in their deliberations. While practice varied from one congregation to another, in most, African-American and white female Baptists were allowed to attend church meetings that decided the appointment of pastors and the admission and discipline of members. In some churches they had leave to express their views, present evidence, and even serve on committees investigating charges against a member of the same sex or race. But by 1800 nearly all churches barred both groups from voting, the exclusive and jealously guarded right of the white brethren.

It appears, too, that, by the last decades of the eighteenth century, the white Baptist brethren were steadily curtailing women's participation in governance. A few preachers, like Kentucky's John Taylor, urged their churches to appoint deaconesses charged with visiting the sick and dying, an office instituted by some of the first Separate Baptist congregations that fell into disuse shortly after the Revolution. But the ruling brethren were content to consign deaconesses to their past, along with voting rights for female members. In 1771, one North Carolina association advised its member churches that "it was not lawful" for the sisters to vote in church meetings—a ruling that suggests some women either enjoyed or claimed that privilege earlier. By 1794, a church belonging to the same association went still further, instructing female members "not to make motions in their own Person nor debate on the floor." By

1802, a Virginia association offered the same counsel, averring that “none but free white male members” could speak with an authoritative voice in matters of governance because white women, like underage sons and African Americans, lacked the independence to reach impartial judgments.

Most early-nineteenth-century southern churches shaped their policies accordingly, vesting rule and discipline firmly in the hands of the brethren. Yet the exclusion of women from governing powers was less an accomplished fact than a continuing achievement. White settlement of each successive frontier renewed such contests, and in some new western churches, the sisters triumphed. In the second decade of the nineteenth century, the brethren of one early Mississippi Baptist church thought better of their initial policy, which had allotted women “all the privileges of male members in the church,” and informed them that “we consider it their duty to learn of the Apostle [Paul] not to speak in the church nor to usurp authority.” But when the sisters resisted, the brethren relented. Elsewhere in the South, however, the brethren more often persisted and

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Heyrman, Christine Leigh. *Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Christine Leigh Heyrman, *Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), 167–168.

Shortened citation:

Heyrman, *Southern Cross*, 167–168.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.03

Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism

Ellen Eslinger

SELECTION	THE SOCIAL SIGNIFICANCE OF CAMP MEETING REVIVALISM
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 241–242 · Supplied edition: University of Tennessee Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Christianity to its original purity, when the disciples of Jesus Christ gathered for worship without the mediation of an educated clergy, impressive church structures, or doctrinal intricacies. This vision formed the foundation for the religious denomination soon organized by Stone and his adherents, named most appropriately the Christian Church. The Stonites rejected all creeds save the New Testament." Neither Stone nor any of his fellow revivalists who left a personal account of their experiences seem to have noticed that the particular aspects of Christianity being expressed at camp meetings also resembled republican social ideals. This oversight is hardly surprising, since defenders of the new evangelical format attributed its power not to earthly concerns but to divine favor. Yet the character of early camp meeting revivalism reveals an emphasis on key qualities of morality, egalitarianism, and unity that were central to both worlds. The camp meeting, which on one level was the temporary creation of an ideal Christian society, was also the temporary creation of an ideal republican society. Moreover, camp meeting participants were not required to distinguish between the two ideals.

Indeed, they were encouraged not to do so, but rather to infuse the young nation with renewed Christian virtue. And, if a Christian republic could be realized for a few days at a camp meeting, hope also existed for a more permanent achievement. Thus camp meeting ritual contained an instructive aspect, not only religiously but also socially.

Although the full effect of camp meeting revivalism remains impossible to gauge, the extraordinary popularity of camp meeting revivalism among Americans in the nineteenth century offers indirect yet indisputable testimony for its tremendous importance. This popularity has often been under-appreciated, but the camp meeting's success lay not with the clergy but with the laity. Had people not found the new religious format meaningful, they would have declined to participate. Camp meeting revivalism would have gone down in history as merely a freak episode of spiritual excess. The specific meaning was certainly far from uniform, yet at least one general observation can be offered, an observation which pertains just as much to those participants who experienced religious transformation as to those who did not.

The communitas experienced at camp meetings brought together people from different backgrounds in ways thought appropriate for both Christians and republicans. For a few days, to a varying degree, these Americans became, in the words of a popular hymn by Isaac Watts, "Citizens of Zion."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Eslinger, Ellen. *Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Ellen Eslinger, *Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism* (University of Tennessee Press, 1999), 241–242.

Shortened citation:

Eslinger, *Citizens of Zion*, 241–242.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.04

The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 3–4 · Supplied edition: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Excerpt

CHAPTER I Tue GREAT REVIVAL Fo At the beginning of the decade of the 'thirties, William Ellery Channing, the New England liberal, summed up the spirit of his age. It was, he observed, "an age of great movements" which had shown, as had no other age, a "tendency and power to exalt a people." Behind these great movements—the triumph of the Jacksonian democracy, the extension of popular knowledge, and the enlargement of economic opportunity—Channing discerned a common basis in a new perception of human brotherhood. "Every age teaches its own lesson," he declared. "The lesson of this age is that of sympathy with the suffering, and of devotion to the progress of the whole human race." + In 1830, this new movement was working a transformation in religion no less significant than the changes in politics and education. As devotion to the common man increased, the dogmas of Calvinism lost authority. Though still the official creed of the Presbyterian and Congregational denominations, orthodox Calvinism had long been opposed in the East; and in the West—which, in 1830, was anywhere west of the Eastern highlands—thousands were ripe for apostasy. It was among these that the Great Revival began, and it grew wherever belief in Calvinism declined.

To the millions of Calvinists in New England and the West, the democratic faith in the common man which pervaded the Great Revival seemed unnatural and unsound. For the core of Calvinistic belief was a damnatory suspicion of mankind, expressed in its doctrine of original sin. Technically, the original sin was Adam's disobedience in the Garden of Eden, but Calvinists taught that it was our sin too: "When Adam sinned, we, being in Adam's loins as branches in the root, sinned in him." To use a biological figure, Adam's sin infected the human germ plasm with his guilt, and it was "conveyed from our first parents... by natural generation, so that all BITYe) PRYOS AVRO YeYaL CYCRVAL JEVOOCA CICA TRC 022 Gd DY ny (eo AS Ie born "wholly defiled in all the faculties and parts Of sout and body.... wholly lost to all ability or will to any good."?

Left to the justice of a Calvinistic vengeance, how hopeless and helpless is man! Of himself he has no choice but to die in his sins and straightway go to hell to burn forever. Such, indeed, is to be the fate of all of us save a few sound Calvinists, God's elect, who do not merit salvation by any virtue of their own, but are saved by a decree which God uttered when eternity began, foreordaining salvation for a few and damnation for the remainder of mankind. Even these few do not know that they are predestined to be saved until God commands them by a "special calling" to repent of their sin. If they are truly elect, they do repent, and God performs on them a miracle. By the awful agency of the Holy Ghost He cleanses their guilty souls of original sin and they are thereby converted from damnation to salvation. They escape God's vengeance and the burning lake. They are saved!

Before the nineteenth century began, orthodox believers had observed that the Holy Spirit, that mysterious third person of the Trinity, chose to visit with peculiar power congregations gathered at revivals. There the elect heard most clearly the "special calling," while revivalists denounced sinners and summoned the heirs of salvation to repentance. The Great Awakening of 1800, as well as hundreds of local, sporadic "seasons of refreshing" throughout the land, had habituated orthodox Calvinists to expect the miracle of conversion primarily in revivals. But revivals themselves were unaccountably dangerous. During the process of conversion, the operation of the Holy Spirit filled the clergy with perplexity and dismay. Sinners would shriek and faint; they would be shaken with strange ecstasies, would babble with strange tongues. Repeatedly these "excitements" brought revivals into disrepute; but though whole congregations were "overthrown" by the power of the Holy Spirit, though whole communities went mad with terror and joy, the faith of the orthodox remained unshaken that salvation was a miracle wrought by the Holy Ghost through revivals. Long before 1830, revivals had become necessary properties in the Calvinistic drama of the escape

from hell. By the clergy they were dreaded for their power to destroy decorum and feared as the abiding place of the Holy Spirit, but nevertheless they were valued for their effects in enlarging the congregation. Liberals here and there opposed them hut ih. wT

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Barnes, Gilbert Hobbs. *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*. New York: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Footnote citation:

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844* (D. Appleton-Century, 1933), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.05

Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism

Ellen Eslinger

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION Xill
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Tennessee Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Despite the implicit criticism by these scholars, and a frontal assault by others on the whole portrayal of frontier expansion as set forth by Turner, the simplest glance at textbook treatments of camp meeting revivalism will show that frontier explanations still prevail.‘ In large part, this is because no one has offered a persuasive alternative explanation for why camp’meeting revivalism began where it did, when it did, and then went on to become a virtually national phenomenon. This book, which began in 1988 as a dissertation, rests on two fundamental insights.’ One is that, by the time of the Great Revival in 1800, Kentucky no longer bore much resemblance to its frontier beginnings, particularly not according to Turnerian criteria. The other is that early camp meeting revivalism differed in significant ways not only from earlier evangelical forms but also from its later manifestations. Tightening the temporal scale of analysis and carefully reconstructing both the setting and the phenomenon itself suggest that camp meeting revivalism owed its phenomenal popularity to the ability to reintegrate a society rent by economic hardship, political partisanship, and cultural conflict.

Although Turner’s “Frontier Thesis” offers more hindrance than help, the process of Euro-American expansion is nonetheless important for understanding the beginnings of camp meeting revivalism. My interpretation of early trans-Appalachian settlement has been guided by a new interpretive framework oriented around early American expansion into the region west of the Blue Ridge Mountains, primarily in Pennsylvania, Virginia, and North Carolina. This region, known as the “backcountry,” was settled in the eighteenth century. It has attracted a thriving scholarship in recent years, “blazing an academic Appalachian Trail from the backwoods of Maine to the upcountry of Georgia.” The long stretch of interior settlements shared certain traits that historian Gregory Nobles has summarized as “independence and integration.” Whereas Turner looked at the frontier as a fresh departure, studies of the colonial backcountry have tended to emphasize the connection with established cultures.® And, in contrast to Turner and other historians of his generation, recent scholars have recognized that these established cultures were both white and red. What Turnerians would call a frontier, or border, is instead seen as a “middle ground” or regional zone with a mixture of traits creating a distinctive subculture.’ The geographic dimensions of the backcountry, never really finite, were defined as much by conflict as by anything else. On one hand was the tension produced by an insatiable appetite for native land while on the other stood a desire for autonomy. from control by seaboard centers of power. As settlement developed, of course, the backcountry found itself absorbed by the seaboard centers into the emerging national culture. Thus, as a recently settled region, Kentucky at the time of the Great Revival in 1800 had been going through a period of stressful reorientation.

Also important in how I have approached the secular context of camp meeting beginnings is a growing appreciation among historians for the late eighteenth century as an era of profound social transition. Two themes have especially engaged scholars of the period. One concerns America’s capitalist transformation. Increasing involvement in commercial markets was, many historians believe, beginning to erode older notions of society as interdependent. Competition was replacing cooperation as the reigning ethic, causing a widespread but still incompletely understood sense of social malaise.’ Social disintegration was also part of changes taking place in the political realm. Most late-eighteenth-century Americans still accepted a civic humanist tradition of a virtuous citizenry that subordinated personal interest for the common good. The partisanship and division produced in the wake of the American Revolution was therefore extremely disturbing, often interpreted as a moral crisis threatening to the country’s

survival. Moreover, as liberalism gained ground, the pursuit of self-interest seemed to acquire a legitimacy it had not enjoyed earlier. Intertwined in the popular mind with Christian morality, these concerns acquired a special seriousness.? In other ways as well, the late eighteenth century was widely experienced as an era of unusual and troubling change. The late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries saw the organic, cohesive, cooperative ideal of age-old tradition being supplanted by a new liberal, plural, and competitive reality. Several recent historical studies have revealed the ambivalence with which many early Americans regarded this transformation." The experience in newly settled areas such as Kentucky, where the institutional framework was not yet capable of lending much guidance and stability, was often more difficult.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Eslinger, Ellen. *Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Ellen Eslinger, *Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism* (University of Tennessee Press, 1999), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Eslinger, *Citizens of Zion*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.06

Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865

Mary P. Ryan

SELECTION	radle of the middle class
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 14–15 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Excerpt

new social historians, who have the tools with which to undertake this research, have been preoccupied with the elite and the working class and treat what lies in between as the unstable terrain of mobility studies.

Consequently, the class context for the Second Great Awakening and the family history of Oneida County, New York, remains nebulous, and its social historians are sorely wanting in theoretical direction. The best guide to the study of the American middle class was written almost thirty years ago by C. Wright Mills. In his classic, White Collar, Mills gave some needed occupational specificity to the term middle class. Mills classified the owners and operators of small independent retail and productive enterprises, chiefly farmers, artisans, and shopkeepers, as the older middle class. He designated white-collar workers — salaried managers and professionals, retail clerks, and office workers — as the new middle class. Mills also set up a historical dynamic within the middle class. By the mid-nineteenth century the new middle-class had begun to supplant the old; by Mills's estimate, four-fifths of American workers were self-employed in the early nineteenth century and only 1 in 3 by 1870. Mills also acknowledged that the middle-range occupations constituted a peculiar and tenuous class, whose human links were fragile and evanescent.

Occupants of middle-class jobs were notably lacking in the class solidarity evidenced by either trade unions or cabals of large businessmen. As Mills put it, 'The white collar people slipped quietly into modern society. Whatever history they have had is a history without events; whatever common interests they have do not lead to unity; whatever future they have will not be of their own making."!¢ Analysis of the events that transpired in antebellum Oneida County may retrieve these middle Americans from historical limbo. Utica's old middle class was neither without a history nor bereft of a collective identity. The '"middling sort" participated actively in a major historical event, the Second Great Awakening, and formed many groups like the Building Association, which in turn articulated a social and cultural self-image, if only that of an emblem ona brass seal. Often, however, they chose images of private family life as their class insignia. This peculiarly isolated and privatized identity began to evolve within the old middle class of a largely pre-industrial capitalist town.

By the time Utica industrialized, the middle class had withdrawn from association into the secluded social space that Mills described. At the same time, the middle range of Utica occupations had come to include a growing number of clerks, professionals, and managers, that 1s, members of the new middle class. The occupational base of the middle class seemed to be changing at the same time that its domestic consciousness grew more powerful. In other words, Oneida County and Utica, New York, take us via religion and reform to an intricate historical juncture between family and class. It elicits a final hypothesis: Early in £ Fe the nineteenth century the American middle class molded its a| wi d=class tinctive identity around domestic values and family practices. At) mOQded [ts any rate, it is this intuition, this kernal of a reinterpretation of the;(dun ts, making of the modern family that thi rate.

1 OnQ us the pivotal turn in family ideology that dates from the early shee value ineteenth century seems to have occurred at a busy intersection of ah® Souly American history, where structural changes in the household, eco-packces, nomics, and class were entangled with the idiosyncratic episodes of evangelism and reform that gave the Burned-Over District its The task of disentangling these complex relationships required some deviation from the standard practices of family historians. It was necessary to trespass beyond the simplest boundaries of family history, the walls of a single dwelling unit and the bonds of kinship. First of all, examinatior of the basic biological relationships that constitute traditional family status, the differences in age and sex, were found to extend outside the

household into schools, reform associations, clubs, and women's networks. Second, the central functions of the modern family — the socialization of children, the care and feeding of the population, the development of personality, the regulation of sexuality — all take shape in a larger social universe and, theoretically at least, can be transferred outside the conjugal unit.
These tasks, whereby people, rather than goods, are created, are encompassed in the term social reproduction, which sets the wider conceptual boundaries of the subject matter of this book." Finally, age, gender, family — the relations of social reproduction — were seen to operate as causal as well as derivative forces in the shaping of society, politics, and economics. This book will focus on one manifestation of this dynamic relationship, the role played by changes in social reproduction in the making of an American middle class.

This process, which will be recounted according to the uneven pulsations of Oneida County history, has been constrained into five roughly chronological chapters. The first, focusing on rural Whitestown, approximately between 1790 and 1820, will describe the volatile, inherently temporary phenomenon of the frontier farm family. The transformation of family, age, and gender that neces-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ryan, Mary P. *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865* (Cambridge University Press, 1981), 14–15.

Shortened citation:

Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class*, 14–15.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.07

The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds.

SELECTION	ONSEQUENCES IN THE NORTH
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 27–28 · Supplied edition: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Excerpt

Moreover, these changes entailed material, cultural, and political upheav¬ als, divisions, and conflicts. Practitioners of the new ecological history have drawn attention to the alterations to the landscape that accompanied the introduction of market-dedicated farming and logging and the growth of industries dependent on water or mineral resources—changes that often brought lasting damage to ecological systems—and to the profound trans¬ formation of the West as white settlement, the expropriation of Native Americans, and the exploitation of animals, land, and minerals permanently changed the face of half a continent in little more than a generation.[9] Patterns of material life and cultural position became more varied. Family farming, for example, remained at the heart of northern agriculture even as farmers became market oriented, but their position as owners of property and pro¬ ducers of their own goods set farmers increasingly apart from the growing numbers of agricultural and industrial wage workers, whose relationship to the means of production were quite different. Class divisions within indus¬ trial districts and cities became more apparent, as distinctions grew between “masters” and “hands” and as residential segregation by class became com¬ mon. Political changes accompanied—even if they did not perfectly reflect— these conflicts. In general terms, as Sean Wilentz has written, the market revolution engendered new forms of mass party politics. More specifically, as Sellers argues in his book, politics in the Jacksonian period became a conduit for the deep antagonisms that arose between market-oriented and marketresistant groups in American society; the emergence of mass democracy was also accompanied by changes in legal and political practice that helped fend off resistance to economic change and, in Sellers’s words, “made democracy safe for capitalism.”o From the 1830s on, the North’s rapid expansion and change, with its political and ideological accompaniments, also deepened its differences with the slave South, sharpening what Sellers calls “the great con¬ tradiction” in American society that would be resolved only by civil war.

So the evidence, both of material and economic conditions and of cultural and political circumstances, all points to deep changes in which the market revolution can be attributed a primary or contributory role. However, com¬ plex and multifaceted as these contributions were, and divided as historians’ opinions are as to their precise significance, most interpretations on which the market revolution thesis rests share a series of assumptions in common about the directions American society took in the nineteenth century—as¬ sumptions essentially rooted in a set of binary comparisons between condi¬ tions before and after the market revolution had its effects.

To a considerable extent, discussions of market revolution agree in por¬ traying the creation of a new American society and culture from a fixed menu of characteristics. Community gave way before individualism and competi¬ tiveness. The rise of long-distance trade, the growth of urban areas, and the decline of older patterns of neighborhood and reciprocity all produced greater impersonality, a greater need to deal with strangers, greater anonym¬ ity, and a more abstract system of transactions. Class divisions, mobility, and anonymity all made life more atomistic. Among other things, the market revolution helped instill a greater value on private life, on withdrawal from the world, on a focus on family above community, and on a guardedness about personal matters. These new patterns were mediated and legitimized, moreover, by the arguments of political economy—that “free” economic re¬ lationships conformed to the patterns of nature and should be exempt from interference by government or moral concerns—and by the

ideology of free labor, which at once seemed to explain characteristics of the emergent society in the North and to sharpen its conflict with the ambitions of the slave South. The market revolution, in other words, embodied the emergence of Ameri¬ can liberalism and its political, ideological, and institutional forms.

Such consequences, and their contrasts with an older, different culture, have long been familiar to historians. What is striking is that so many new studies have been shaped to fit them rather than to call them into question. My argument is not that these things did not happen, or that they are not an accurate reflection of tangible, powerful changes in nineteenth-century cul¬ ture, but rather that they are in many ways a selective, mutually reinforcing collection of observations that direct attention away from a much richer tap¬ estry of circumstances. In suggesting the need for a different approach, I shall first discuss some of the conceptual bases of the market revolution thesis and then set out some of the social and cultural features that are often missed in assessments of its consequences.

Author's Notes

9. Particularly valuable in understanding the status and world-view of early Methodists are Nathan O. Hatch, The Democratization of American Christianity (New Haven, Conn., 1989); Donald G. Mathews, Religion in the Old South (Chicago, 1977), esp. pp. 28—37; Russell E. Richey, Early American Methodism (Bloomington, 1991); and William Henry Williams, The Garden of American Methodism: The Delmarva Peninsula, 1769-1820 (Wil¬ mington, Del., 1984). See also George Claude Baker, Jr., An Introduction to the History of Early New England Methodism 1789-1839 (Durham, N.C., 1941); Emory S. Bucke, ed„ The History of American Methodism, 3 vols. (New York, 1964).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stokes, Melvyn, and Stephen Conway, eds. *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Footnote citation:

Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds., *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880* (University Press of Virginia, 1996), 27–28.

Shortened citation:

eds., *The Market Revolution in America*, 27–28.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.08

A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837

Paul E. Johnson

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 13–14 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Excerpt

Happily, there are ways of doing that. In recent years historians have devised quantitative means of analyzing family structure, kinship relations, political conflict, occupational and geographic mobility, patterns of association, and a variety of other phenomena that had been beyond the range of systematic study. The result has been a series of studies of the family, of political behavior, of occupational success and failure, and so on. Seldom, however, have these techniques been used to explain cultural change or the rise and fall of social movements. Yet the potential is there." With these methods we can demonstrate ways in which various changes intersected in the lives of persons who joined churches during revivals, and thus define the specific social strains that underlay the rise of evangelicalism. We can, in short, systematically trace the social origins of revival religion.

The approach is best tested in a single community. As the site of that investigation I have chosen Rochester, New York. Generally the makers of case studies claim that the subject of their work is somehow representative of communities that experienced whatever phenomena they are trying to explain. That is not the case with Rochester. The sequence of rapid urbanization, religious revival, and political and social reorganization struck that community with uncommon force. Rochester was the first of the inland cities created after 1815 by the commercialization of agriculture. In 1812 the site of Rochester was unbroken wilderness. By 1830 the forest had given way toa city of 10,000, the marketing and manufacturing center for a broad and prosperous agricultural hinterland. Rochester was the capital of western New York's revivalseared "Burned-over District," and a clearinghouse for religious enthusiasms throughout the 1820s and 1830s. The city holds a special place in the history of revivals, for Charles Finney's triumph there in 1830-31 was the most spectacular event within the national revival of that year. In short, Rochester was the most thoroughly evangelized of American cities.'®

Were revivals a response to insecurities engendered by a normless, dog-eat-dog economy? Did they result from spiritual emptiness among men and women who moved too often to establish new social ties or maintain old ones? America's first inland boom town seems a good place to test those propositions. What accounts for the increasingly urban, middle-class character of revivals after 1830? Rochester was the nation's newest city in that year, and Finney's revival there more than any other single event marked the movement of enthusiasm into the cities. What precisely were the links between revivals and the transformation of politics and reform in the 1830s? Again, Rochester was a center of those developments.

The pages that follow attempt a systematic explanation of Charles Finney's revival in Rochester. The attempt is not based upon tourists' tales, theological disputes, or the reminiscences of ministers, although it makes use of all of them. The focus is upon the biographies of the converts themselves, reconstructed from church records, newspapers, genealogical materials, tax lists, city directories, census schedules, petitions sent from Rochester to various agencies of government, and a surprising number of diaries and letters left by participants in the revival. These materials are used to place Finney's converts within four crucial spheres of social experience: domestic life, work, community relations, and politics. The first chapter determines the effects of migration and participation in the boom-town economy upon entrepreneurs and their families. Chapter II describes the transformation of work and community relationships in the 1820s. Chapters III and IV analyze the institutional and ideological framework of politics in the 1820s, and survey the temperance, Sabbatarian, and Antimasonic crusades of those years. The fifth chapter describes the revival itself. The sixth describes its aftermath.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Paul E. *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (Hill and Wang, 1978), 13–14.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium*, 13–14.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.09

The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850

Whitney R. Cross

SELECTION	THE GREAT REVIVAL
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 9–10 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1950.

Excerpt

Theological differences also existed, but apparently not in such a way as to affect religious emotionalism. All the major denomina¬ tions (the Episcopal Church was relatively weak in this area) and most of the smaller ones were strongly revivalistic. Congregationalists, soon Presbyterian under the Plan of Union, were accus¬ tomed to social dominance just as they had been in New England. They consequently initiated revival campaigns in which other sects followed, as they had in the home region. Methodists and Baptists, more literal, more emotional, and better understood by common folk, increasingly "strung Presbyterian fish" and gained adherents more rapidly, just as they had at the expense of the established New

England church.

Evidence concerning the development of the Burned-over Dis¬ trict churches before 1825 is unreliable, but it suffices to indicate similar patterns of growth among the several denominations. In periods of awakening all increased rapidly; in times of quiet all grew slowly. Prior foundation in particular vicinities gave one or another sect special local strength, but in the region as a whole they appear to have maintained uniform patterns of expansion. Their history can be told as one tale.

The winter of 1799-1800 was in western New York long called the time of the Great Revival, just as it was in Kentucky. But the violent sensationalism of the southern frontiersmen repulsed the relatively staid Yankees, whose experiences, because more calm, have been the more easily forgotten by historians. Additional factors conspired to diminish the fame of the northern awakenings which occurred throughout western New England and New York in scattered places, in various seasons. The one winter repre¬ sented a culmination and peak of a period of several years, rather than a single, climactic outburst. The preaching techniques and excitement-breeding expectation, which long use would eventually make habitual, had been more completely out of style in New England than in Kentucky. The Great Awakening of the colonial period had come later to the South than to New England and mem¬ ories were the fresher there on that account. Slow travel and im¬ perfect communications prevented the immediate infection of large areas which would later become customary. Indeed, appear¬ ances could easily justify the feeling of conservative clergymen that the spasmodic nature of this Great Revival showed that it came unsought from Heaven, while later ones seemed more directly the work of human agents.

Yet, in proportion to the slight population of upstate New York, the Great Revival must have justified its name. Most of the settled neighborhoods participated. The more homogeneous Yankee cen¬ ters provided leadership, and strongholds of Congregationalism developed in the towns of the Genesee country. Oneida and Otsego counties farther east shared equally, along with other communities sprinkled between these two population centers. The Methodists seem to have gained over 1,500 members in the one year. Two years later, Lorenzo Dow first visited the village of Western, where Charles Finney would commence his triumphs in 1825. Dow con¬ verted a hundred sinners in a single three-hour meeting at nearby

Paris Hill. Western itself, after a three-day camp meeting involving over twenty preachers of various sects, became the base of the key Methodist circuit for central New York. Here also "Crazy" Dow met and married his "rib," Peggy,

and here he returned four times before 1817 to reinvigorate the locality.

After 1800 excitement diminished, rose again to a lesser peak in 1807-1808, and slumped once more during the war years. But even the least promising seasons saw awakenings in a few localities.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cross, Whitney R. *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1950.

Footnote citation:

Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850* (Cornell University Press, 1950), 9–10.

Shortened citation:

Cross, *The Burned-over District*, 9–10.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.10

Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America

Ann Braude

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Beacon Press, 1989.

Excerpt

~ logical terror of her youth. Her baby's death and the advent of her mediumship culminated her emancipation from the religious perspective that dominated her family and her era. When Anne Denton Cridge became a Spiritualist, she joined a popular and controversial movement that assumed a self-conscious identity in North America in the mid-nineteenth century.' Spiritualism was a new religious movement aimed at proving the immortality of the soul by establishing communication with the spirits of the dead. Whether reverenced or ridiculed, Spiritualism was ubiquitous on the American scene at mid-century. For some it provided solace in the face of bereavement, for some entertainment, for some a livelihood earned from the credulous. For many it provided evidence of the immortality of the soul that formed the basis of a sincere religious faith. For iconoclasts and nonconformists it provided an alternative to the established religious order. It held two attractions that proved irresistible to thousands of Americans: rebellion against death and rebellion against authority.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Braude, Ann. *Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America*. Boston: Beacon Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Ann Braude, *Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America* (Beacon Press, 1989), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Braude, *Radical Spirits*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.11

Sisters and Saints: Women and American Religion

Ann Braude

SELECTION	WHEN THE SPIRIT MOVES WOMEN
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 35–36 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Although women constituted a majority of converts throughout the revivals, they made up a smaller majority than women usually did in church membership. Thus revivals marked an increase in the proportion of male church members. This increase, however, seems to indicate an increase in women's influence over male family members rather than a decline in women's religious role. Church records show that male revival converts were often led into church by pious wives, mothers, and sisters. The abolitionist Theodore Dwight Weld recalled the tactics used by his Aunt Clark to cajole male relatives into attending revivals. She asked him to join her for a morning service on the pretense that Charles Finney, whom he despised, was not preaching until the afternoon. Once there, she led him into a pew and followed with several ladies, making his exit impossible. When Finney began to preach and young Theodore attempted escape, Aunt Clark whispered, "You'll break my heart if you go!" Weld remained, was converted, and devoted his life to evangelical reform. Women had a lot to gain from men's participation in evangelical culture. Legally subject to and economically dependent on husbands and fathers, women were vulnerable to harddrinking, lazy, or unfaithful men. Men reborn as Christians absorbed the values of Evangelicalism: temperance, thrift, and productivity. Revival supporters pictured men who formerly spent their leisure time drinking with other men now praying with their families instead. Evangelical morality supplied men with a set of values that many believed benefited women. One reform movement especially symbolized the strength women gained from evangelical Christianity. This was the moral reform movement, aimed at eliminating prostitution. Advocates hoped to reform both the "fallen women" who worked as prostitutes and the men who patronized them. In doing so, they attacked the double standard that condemned the smallest fall from sexual purity in women, but accepted that moral men might patronize prostitutes. Although most Christians assumed that women tempted men to sin, members of moral reform societies

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Braude, Ann. *Sisters and Saints: Women and American Religion*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Ann Braude, *Sisters and Saints: Women and American Religion* (Oxford University Press, 2007), 35–36.

Shortened citation:

Braude, *Sisters and Saints*, 35–36.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.12

Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845

Catherine A. Brekus

SELECTION	Female Preaching in the Early Nineteenth Century
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 138–139 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Demographically, the sheer number of women sitting in the church pews subtly a√ected clerical attitudes toward female preaching. Because women increasingly dominated church membership lists in the years after the American Revolution, one historian has christened the nineteenth-century revivals as a "women's awakening." In 1798, for example, the Freewill Baptist leadership refused to allow a church in Brookfield, New Hampshire, to form its own Monthly Meeting because almost all of its members were women. "There is so few mail members it Dont look as if you Could be able to keep up proper order," they explained. Similarly, between 1800 and 1860, women made up a full 60 percent of the new members admitted to all the churches in Cortland County, New York.∑∞ Although clergymen feared that such large numbers of female converts might make the church peripheral to the larger culture, they also began to give women greater opportunities to testify and preach. On one hand, they did not want women to "rule" over men, but on the other, they had always encouraged them to meet in single-sex groups for prayer and spiritual reflection. There seemed to be no reason to prevent women from speaking publicly to other women.

These sects also allowed women to preach because of the shortage of ordained male ministers. In their formative years, the Methodists, African Methodists, Freewill Baptists, and Christians simply did not have enough ordained clergy to keep pace with their spectacular growth. In 1795, for example, when Sally Parsons told the Yearly Meeting of Freewill Baptists that she had been called to preach, they were desperate to find new laborers in the harvest. Even by 1810, after intensive recruiting e√orts, there were still only sixty-four Freewill Baptist ministers to lead one hundred congregations.∑≤ Out of necessity, then, these sects turned to women as well as lay men to help lead meetings and organize new churches. As one Christian elder later remembered, his disapproval evident, "It was too much a fashion with the order of people with whom I had connected myself, to make preachers of almost all who opened their mouths in public." Even as late as 1838, when the Christians had become a popular and thriving denomination, the Christian Journal ran an article entitled "Laborers Wanted" encouraging lay people to appoint their own religious meetings "when ministerial help is not conveniently obtained."∑≥

Because of the scarcity of laborers, particularly in remote areas of the country, women often held informal religious services for their friends and neighbors. During the 1770s, two Methodist "praying women" in the backwoods of Georgia began holding meetings that eventually attracted the "whole neighborhood." Although these women were too humble to presume to preach, they read chapters of the Bible aloud, sang hymns, and urged their listeners to shoulder the "cross" of Christian faith. At their first public meeting, one "o√ered up a most fervent and deeply impressive prayer to God," while the other told "the plain, simple story of her conversion." Moved by the power of their words, several fell "as if smitten with lightning to the floor," while "others fled from the house in the greatest consternation." The two women continued holding religious meetings until the Reverend Bennett Maxey, a Methodist itinerant, heard about their success and arrived to take control.∑∂ In a fitting irony, Maxey's name has survived in the historical record, but the women's names have not.

Emboldened by the absence of ordained clergymen, a few women asserted their call to preach as well as witness and exhort. When Abigail Roberts, a Christian, traveled to Milford, New Jersey, in 1833, there was not a single Christian Connection minister in the town, and as the sole representative of her church, she began holding meetings to explain her beliefs. Perhaps her male colleagues would have resented her boldness under di√erent circumstances, but because they were anxious to find new laborers to minister to those who were "scattered abroad, as sheep having no

shepherd," they gladly welcomed her help. "She was the first who carried the doctrine of the people known as the Christians... into the north and west of New Jersey," wrote David Millard. "For over one year she laboured alone, and may be said to have been the most e≈cient instrument of opening the way into most of the places where churches of our Connexion have since been planted in that state. Her labors have been abundantly blessed."∑∑ With few men available, Roberts helped to turn the Christians from a small, struggling sect into a successful denomination.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Brekus, Catherine A. *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Catherine A. Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), 138–139.

Shortened citation:

Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims*, 138–139.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.13

Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt

Christine Leigh Heyrman

SELECTION	SOUTHERN CROSS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 194–195 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Evangelicals, of course, had a horror of being confused with the Shakers. And that dread, as Shaker villages sprang up in the midst of southern settlements in the western country, only added to the urgency of resolving the dilemma posed by female virtuosos in Baptist and Methodist churches. Now southerners could witness firsthand women wielding both spiritual and temporal power over such Shaker "families," claiming superior religious charisma as the basis of that authority. Here, indeed, was a caution to Baptists and Methodists, whose own ranks harbored clergymen urging, on the same grounds, that godly women might hold church office and preach. Accordingly, evangelicals took steps to distinguish their views on women from those of the Shakers. One of their shrewdest polemicists was Abram Van Vleet, a Presbyterian printer in Lebanon, Ohio, who acquainted southerners with Mary Dyer and Eunice Chapman, two northern women who sought divorces and custody of their children after their husbands joined the Shakers. In 1818, Van Vleet's press put out a new edition of their lurid revelations—updated with the latest gossip from the western country—including allegations that the Shakers regarded wedlock as "a contract

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Heyrman, Christine Leigh. *Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Christine Leigh Heyrman, *Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), 194–195.

Shortened citation:

Heyrman, *Southern Cross*, 194–195.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.14

Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All

Martha S. Jones

SELECTION	HAPTER 2 The Cause of the Slave, as Well as of Women
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2020.

Excerpt

Not content to stay cloistered in classrooms or at her writing desk, Paul organized her pupils into the Juvenile Choir of Boston and traveled with them on the road throughout New England. On stage, the choir performed a repertoire that condemned slavery and colonization with songs such as “Ye Who Are in Bondage Pine” and “Home, This Is Our Home.” It was a test of New England’s commitment to racial equality and Paul exposed its fault lines. Though Massachusetts had abolished slavery decades earlier and led the abolitionist movement, racism plagued the work of Paul and her young charges. After a performance in Salem, coach drivers refused to shuttle the choir back to Boston. Paul found the group another way home, remaining steely and resourceful throughout the ordeal. She later remarked: “We were not surprised at our treatment from these persons. This is but a faint picture of that spirit which persecutes us on account of our color—that cruel prejudice which deprives us of every privilege whereby we might elevate ourselves—and then absurdly condemns us because we are not more refined and intelligent.”12

The urgent efforts of radical antislavery societies drew Paul to politics. She saw Black women playing pathbreaking roles in that movement. The Black women of Salem, Massachusetts, took the trouble to advise William Lloyd Garrison that he had wrongly accused Black Americans of failing to establish antislavery societies. The women published their constitution in The Liberator, evidence that the Female Anti-Slavery Society of Salem, led by Black women, had been founded in February 1832. They lit a spark. Paul joined antislavery societies—first the New England Anti-Slavery Society and then its women’s auxiliary, the Boston Female Anti-Slavery Society—and was immediately out in front of a movement. It did not take long for her to learn that women could not maintain middle-class comportment at antislavery meetings.

Paul soon witnessed firsthand how opponents did not hesitate to place women in the crosshairs of the contest over slavery during the October 1835 meeting of the Boston Female Anti-Slavery Society. A mob disrupted the proceedings, descending upon the delegates and attempting to capture the women’s guest speaker, British abolitionist George Thompson. Eventually, the crowd let the women escape. But they took William Lloyd Garrison into their hands and nearly lynched him on the streets of Boston. Paul weathered the melee and remained steadfast in her antislavery commitments. their local meetings remained important, and they still attended men’s meetings, in 1837, American women called for their own national convention. It was time, the call explained, for women to lead the movement, much in the way that women antislavery activists in Britain did. Not everyone welcomed the opportunity, and some women stayed home, reluctant to challenge the men who had steered the radical opposition to slavery through its early years. Those who packed their bags and set out for women’s gatherings were building something altogether new.

In 1838, Paul joined this new wave. She traveled by coach from Boston, part of a delegation that included two Black members, Paul and Martha Ball. A shared commitment to the cause moved these antislavery women—Black and white—to welcome one another across the color line. They were allies in a women-led foray into national politics, yet the alliance was not easy or untroubled. Antislavery women walked together on Philadelphia’s streets, but they did not travel in the same shoes. Racism divided their experiences, casting a shadow over women’s conventions, both outside and inside the meeting halls. When the women pledged to meet for politics, in public, together—Black and white—everyone had reason to be uneasy.

Among the women who greeted Susan Paul in Philadelphia was Sarah Mapps Douglass. They knew one another from the antislavery press. Both women had been featured in Garrison's The Liberator. But at the convention, they met face-to-face, among the few Black women who made the trip to Philadelphia. Though small in number, this handful quickly assumed leadership, contributing their political acumen. Their presence was also symbolic for the women's antislavery movement. The visibility of women like Paul and Douglass testified to the convention's antiracist ideals. The delegates endorsed Susan Paul as a vice president, Sarah Mapps Douglass as treasurer and business committee member, and Martha Ball as secretary. These Black women then assumed seats within the convention's inner circle, steering toward a political platform and a distinctly women's agenda. It was a promising start. But it also proved to be as close as Black women would ever get to national leadership in the antislavery movement.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones, Martha S. *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Martha S. Jones, *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All* (Basic Books, 2020), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Jones, *Vanguard*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.15

Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865

Mary P. Ryan

SELECTION	radle of the middle class
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 96–97 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Excerpt

whispered in his ear, "You'll break my heart if you go!" Woman's role in the conversion that ensued would have remained forever unrecorded were it not that the convert in question was none other than Theodore Dwight Weld. The famed abolitionist's aunt turns out to be Sophia Clarke, whose many unheralded accomplishments included a founding membership in both the Female Missionary Society and the Maternal Association and the enrollment of at least three children among the revival converts. the quasi-public forums of the Female Missionary society and the Maternal Association. Despite the fragmentary records of these intraced to one or the other organization. Harriet Dana, Mary Walker Ostrom, and Sophia Clarke, for example, were all members of the Female Missionary Society. Although the early awakenings enthe Female Missionary Society and account for 15% of the conversions. That same revival brought saving grace to sixteen children (13% of all converts) whose mothers belonged to the newly formed Maternal Association.

In the subsequent revivals, 1830 and 1838, the imprint of the older organization disappeared but the Maternal all, known members of the Maternal Association brought at least fifty-five children into the revival ranks. Within these organizainterest in revivalism, now clearly a cause to be reckoned with. They quickly established several missionary societies of their own. The membership list of the Western Domestic Missionary Society, founded in 1826, reiterated the same surnames that stocked the earlier female organization: Bagg, Hastings, Stocking, Doolittle, and Van Rensselaer, to name a few. From the date of its founding, the Western Domestic Missionary Society courted the cooperation of women and within a year invited the female organization to become a formal auxiliary. The Utica-based leadership of the Female Missionary Society of the Western District voted to accept this invitation. Soon they were absorbed into the male association and women's identity as an independent force for revivalism was erased from the public ledgers. The names of these women no longer appeared in addresses, circulars, and religious periodicals; they were reincorporated into the household order of the male elite.

Women ultimately proved to be poor competitors for public stature, at least among the elite of the commercial town. Off in the rural areas, however, the female organization of evangelism died a slower death and, in fact, experienced a brief renascence. The auxiliaries regarded the decision to consolidate with the Domestic Missionary Society as only tentative, and in 1829 they came back into operation. Even if the evangelical goals could be achieved without the Female Missionary Society, these women argued, "we should ourselves at any rate loose an important benefit. That pleasing interchange of views and feelings on the grand objects of our association - those heartfelt communications of hope, joy and gratitude, to which our connection gives rise, would nearly, if not entirely be lost. The deep interest produced by the work would give way to lassitude, and the living animation which they inspire be succeeded, we have reason to fear, by a chilling indifference/' Significantly, neither Utica nor Whitestown appointed ship, the society collected only $365, sponsored one missionary, and disappeared within two years.

With the disappearance of the Female Missionary Society, the more expansive and broadly social wave of women's evangelism subsided. It had served its purpose, however, and created a powerful succycle, members of the Maternal Association accounted for more than one-third of the converts in the First Presbyterian Church. By this date, furthermore, the Maternal Association had acquired its own machinery for reaching out to women dispersed in their isoone of its own members to edit a periodical on the subject of their mutual interest. Mother's Magazine was followed in but a few years by a Baptist equivalent, Mother's Monthly Journal. Other female orverting power. The Sunday schools founded in 1815 flourished, exstudents were converted during each revival season. Female acade-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ryan, Mary P. *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865* (Cambridge University Press, 1981), 96–97.

Shortened citation:

Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class*, 96–97.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.16

Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War

Alice Felt Tyler

SELECTION	HAPTER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 11–12 · Supplied edition: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Excerpt

Reform for the Criminal

With the revolutions that marked the end of the eighteenth century the old manner of treating the delinquent and the defective was rejected as an anachronism in a world that had recognized the im¬ portance of the individual. Beccaria's Crime and Punishment had been as widely read as Rousseau's Emile, and Montesquieu was known for his doctrines on the reform of criminal law and proce¬ dure as well as for his theories of government. It was early recog¬ nized that there was a fundamental incompatibility between the social forces of the American Revolution and the criminal codes of the colonial era. If the equality proclaimed in the Declaration of In¬ dependence meant anything at all, it meant equality before the law. If American statesmen were to give more than lip service to the humane and optimistic idea of man's improvability, they must re¬ move the barbarism and vindictiveness from their penal codes and admit that one great objective of punishment for crime must be the reformation of the criminal.

Already men were groping toward the conception that man is in part the product of his environment and that society itself is respon¬ sible for many nonsocial actions. Science was soon to suggest that heredity, health, and other physical and psychological factors might play their part in delinquency and deficiency, making the criminal the victim as well as the villain in the social drama that ended in the prisoner's dock, and marking the defective as the unfortunate result of conditions for which he could not be held responsible. "An eye for an eye and a tooth for a tooth" seemed a barbaric principle of social revenge, and the righteous desire of the Puritan to cut off the wicked from the face of the earth gave way to a gentler doctrine of regeneration.

The change was not peculiar to the United States but was a part of the worldwide humanitarianism of the period. As in other lines of social progress, reform crossed national boundaries, and any list of those interested in the improvement of institutions for crimi¬ nals or defectives must be international in scope. But the part played by the United States was far from ignoble. Indeed, so marked was the American advance in the treatment of society's unfortunates that European travelers made special efforts to visit American pris¬ ons and asylums, and European governments commissioned agents to study and report upon American progress.

Always these visitors sought to note such features of American plans as might with profit be copied in their own lands. In their turn, American humanitarians traveling abroad made contact with the managers of European institutions and brought home ideas for further changes in the American system. These humanitarians gave of their time and money to societies organized to work for reform, wrote letters and reports, and left for posterity the record of the movement that had been of such importance to them.

The European visitors differed in their ideas as to why American progress was more marked than that of Europe. Harriet Martineau found the cause for American progress in the democratic faith:

The fundamental democratic principles on which American Society is organized, are those "principles of justice and mercy" by which the guilty, the ignorant, the needy, and the infirm, are saved and blessed. The charity of a democratic society is heart-reviving to witness; for there is a security that no wholesale oppression is bearing down the mil¬ lion in one direction, while charity is lifting up the hundred in another. Generally speaking, the misery that

is seen is all that exists: there is no paralysing sense of the hopelessness of setting up individual benevolence against social injustice. If the community has not yet arrived at the point at which all communities are destined to arrive, of perceiving guilt to be infirmity, of obviating punishment, ignorance, and want, still the Ameri¬ cans are more blessed than others, in the certainty that they have far less superinduced misery than society abroad, and are using wiser methods than others for its alleviation.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tyler, Alice Felt. *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Footnote citation:

Alice Felt Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War* (University of Minnesota Press, 1944), 11–12.

Shortened citation:

Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment*, 11–12.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.17

Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860

Carl F. Kaestle

SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Excerpt

These groups did not make common cause with each other, did not have the same goals, and did not succeed in preventing the achieve various concessions and adjustments, thus contributing to the shape and content of American common schooling as it existed by 860. This book is about schools, not about all education. Families, churches, apprenticeships, and other institutions continued to was also the period during which the school was emerging as the principal agent of cognitive and moral teaching and as an important instrument of public policy. This book attempts to explain that process. It looks beyond schools to the broader economic and cultural context, but only in order to explain changes in the organization and purposes of schooling. If one wants to understand state policy toward education, schools are the appropriate focus. Society educates in many ways; the state educates through schools. The chapters of this book are organized around two chronothe antebellum period (1830 to 1860). Within these periods chapters are organized on a topical basis. After a brief prologue about the educational ideas of the founding fathers, two chapters describe rural and urban schooling in the early national period and note some connections between education and social changes between 1780 and 1830. The next four chapters concentrate on the North in the antebellum period. The argument moves from then to popular reaction. Common-school developments in the midwestern states generally followed the same lines as those in the Northeast. This raises some interesting questions about the causes of successful common-school systematization, because the Midwest was less industrial and less urban than the Northeast. Most southern states, in contrast, did not adopt tax-supported, state-regulated common schools by the time of the Civil War. Historians have long characterized the South as a region with truth. There was much common-school reform effort and support in the South. Nonetheless, the North-South contrast is important.

in common-school reform.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kaestle, Carl F. *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Footnote citation:

Carl F. Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1983), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.18

The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840

Daniel Feller

SELECTION	The Kingdom of Christ
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 115–116 · Supplied edition: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

Reformers saw themselves as altruists. They wished to help others find the same conviction and discipline that had brought them success, happi¬ ness, and peace of mind. They preached liberation, not repression. They yearned to help everyone escape the bondage of sin. As they had learned, only those who mastered base impulses and achieved genuine self-control could count themselves truly free.

In short they wanted, quite innocently and honestly, to shape America in their own image. Their motives, if not disinterested, were far from selfish. Finney gave up a promising career at the bar to preach the gospel. Garrison and other abolitionists courted injury and even martyrdom. The Grimkes accepted exile from their Carolina home. Theodore Weld, an orator and writer of immense promise, knowingly destroyed his health in service to antislavery. Illinois abolitionist editor Elijah Lovejoy lost three printing presses to mobs. Defending a fourth, he lost his life. The Tappans spent a literal fortune on reform, and got paid in resentment, ridicule, riot, and ruin. They never regretted the bargain.

Still, many Americans rejected the reformers' self-image of selfless be¬ nevolence. If they saw themselves as humble advocates for Christ, others saw them as prudes and busybodies, meddling in other people's lives and telling them what to do. Baptists and Methodists, recalling their long struggle against state clerical establishments, hesitated to join reform ven¬ tures led by their old oppressors. Catholics, still few in number in 1830 (Irish immigration, which at mid-century would exceed one hundred thousand a year, totaled only fifty thousand during the 1820s), shunned crusaders who condemned their ways as sinful and refused even to recognize them as Christians.

To the unconverted, the unconvinced, and the uninterested, the moral certitude of Christian zealots could be truly insufferable. Lewis Tappan foisted tracts on everyone he met, at his boardinghouse and even on vaca¬ tion. Lyman Beecher invited hearers to choose for themselves—but he threatened damnation on those who chose wrongly. Slaveholders and non¬ slaveholders who thought themselves good citizens and good Christians reddened with rage at William Lloyd Garrison's presuming to pass divine judgment on them.

Reformers for the most part favored tools of persuasion; they sought to convince, not coerce. Still, behind the helping hand of voluntarism lurked the fist of compulsion. Some temperance-minded businessmen orga¬ nized boycotts against the liquor trade and demanded that their employees quit drinking. The Tappans required church attendance of their clerks and wielded their financial muscle to punish the ungodly, a tactic that slave¬ holders later turned upon them.

One branch of evangelical reform, the Sabbatarian crusade, was plainly coercive. Since the War of 1812, Congregational and Presbyterian clergy had tried to enlist the federal government in their campaign to stop busi¬ ness on the Lord's Day. On July 4,1827, Reverend Ezra Stiles Ely preached in Philadelphia on "the duty of Christian freemen to elect Christian rulers" and build "a Christian party in politics. " In New York, after failing to get Erie Canal locks closed on Sundays, Sabbatarian businessmen organized six-day stage and boat lines and threatened to boycott Sunday traffickers. In 1828 the General Union for the Promotion of the Christian Sabbath cir¬ culated petitions to ban federal Sunday mail service. Opponents charged them with trying to abrogate the separation of church and state.

Plans to evangelize the West hinted of both sectional and cultural im¬ perialism. Eastern sophisticates found the explosion of raw western growth both exhilarating and disturbing. A young Ralph Waldo Emerson noted that "the vast rapidity with which the deserts & forests of the interior of this country are peopled have led patriots to fear lest

the nation grow too fast for its virtue & peace." Proper Bostonians, New Yorkers, and Philadel¬ phians worried that without proper instruction, these "raw multitudes"— the "offscouring of civilized society," "an ignorant & licentious people"— would "pour out upon the world an accursed tribe of barbarous robbers." But if they could be schooled "to speak a voice of wisdom & virtue, the reformation of the world would be to be expected from America." It was to instruct the West in Christian civilization that Lyman Beecher went to Cin¬ cinnati, and that eastern societies showered westerners with Bibles, tracts, Sunday schools, and missionaries.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Feller, Daniel. *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Footnote citation:

Daniel Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840* (Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995), 115–116.

Shortened citation:

Feller, *The Jacksonian Promise*, 115–116.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.19

The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic

David J. Rothman

SELECTION	ntroduction to the 1990 Edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1971.

Excerpt

The Discovery of the Asylum argues that Jacksonian Americans experienced a crisis o f confidence i n the social organization o f the new republic, fearful that the ties that once bound citizens together — the ties o f community, church, and family — were loosening and that, as a consequence, social disorganization ap peared imminent. Their fears were confirmed and exacerbated by the extent o f the crime, poverty, delinquency, and insanity that they saw around them. I n response to these perceptions, to an anxiety about the stability o f the social order and an alarm about the extent o f deviancy and dependency, they discovered the solution o f the asylum. This institution would at once reha bilitate the inmates, thereby reducing crime, insanity, and pov erty, andwould then, through the very success o f its design, set an example for the larger society. The good order o f the asylum, its routine o f punctuality and steady labor, would act as both a cure anda preventive — reforming its charges and serving as amodel to the community. It was a grand and almost Utopian vision, one that sought to ensure the safety o f the republic and promote its glory.

Michael Ignatieff, analyzing the origins o f prisons i n England, andAndrew Scull and Robert Castel, analyzing the origins o f insane asylums, one inEnglandand the other i n France, each put their own gloss o n this approach, but all o f them link the design and popularity o f the asylum to a wider societal mission, an effort to restore stability where disorganization seemed ram pant.

Ignatieff hinges his account ona sharp increase i n crime, pau perism, and unrest inEngland after 1815, the result ofa disin tegration o f traditional ties and relationships i n agriculture (in the southeast), i n the new factories (in the north), and, most visibly, inLondon.

" The massive investment i n institutional solutions," writes Ignatieff, "would have been inconceivable u n less the authorities had believed that they were faced with the breakdown ofa society o f stable ranks and the emergence ofa society o f hostile classes." This perception affected a diverse groupof constituents, including evangelical philanthropists, manufacturers, secular reformers, and public officials; and all o f them, for their own particular reasons, promoted the develop ment ofa prison system that would segregate the offender and subject him to a routine o f discipline and labor. For some, the main attraction o f the new arrangement was that it would divide the criminal class from the working class and thereby reduce a propensity to riot or rebellion. Others welcomed the prospect o f demonstrating that the state was powerful even as it was merci ful. Still others believed that the prison would promote religious reformation within and without its walls, and some hoped it would instill an internal discipline o f order and regularity not only i n those who arrived at the prison but also i n those who arrived each morning at the factory gate.

The motives o f asy lum proponents, then, were varied and not easily sorted out or ranked by weight o f influence. In the end, the prison satisfied a variety o f agendas, all o f which had as their initial inspiration an effort to bind together a fragmented society.

Andrew Scull is also convinced that a crisis swept over E n gland i n the late eighteenth and early nineteenth century as it lurched " froma social order dominated by rank, order, and degree to one based o n class." The chief agent o f change was "the development o f national and international markets [that] producedadiminution, i f not a destruction, o f the traditional influence o f local groups (especially kinship groups), which for merly played a large

role i n the regulation o f social life." Scull finds anumberof reasons that this breakdown should have stim ulated the growth o f the asylum. H e notes the contributions o f both Evangelicalism and Utilitarianism. For the religiously mo tivated, an ordered asylum was a way to make certain that "those who had lost their reason should not also lose their souls." For secularists, the filth, cruelty, and neglect that the insane suffered was "a powerful argument against the haphazard, amateurish, social policies o f the past" as well as an opportunity to impose a new rationality and order. A t the same time, marketing and manufacturing activities demonstrated how raw materials could be transformed through human intervention, thereby embold ening some o f the new capitalists (most notably the Quakers) to dare to consider transforming the mad. The new industrial ac tivity sensitized still others to the need to impose a new order o f discipline o n the working class and then, by extension, o n the mad: "Lunatics, too, were to be made over i n the image o f bour geois rationality."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothman, David J. *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1971.

Footnote citation:

David J. Rothman, *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic* (Little, Brown, 1971), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Rothman, *The Discovery of the Asylum*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.20

Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson

David S. Reynolds

SELECTION	Reforms, Panaceas, Inventions, Fads
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 205–206 · Supplied edition: Harper, 2008.

Excerpt

Moral reform groups multiplied. The American Seventh Commandment Society, founded in 1833, soon changed its name to the American Moral Reform Society. By 1847 it claimed to have published more than a million pages of tracts. Among the many other moral reform organizations were a national association of blacks, begun in Philadelphia in 1835 by Samuel E. Cornish and Robert Purvis; a female society founded in Oberlin in 1836; and the New-England Golden Rule Society (1838), run by Protestant women. Antislavery leaders joined the moral reform effort. Garrison noted "the prevalence of lewdness" in the North, which made it similar to the South, where slavery, "a system of incest, pollution, and adultery," was enforced by slaveholders, who were "whoremongers and adulterers." In the Liberator, Garrison strongly endorsed several moral reform societies. The seducer, he wrote, "is a viper in society. Let him be avoided as a despicable felon." Moral reform had two main goals: rescuing prostitutes and eradicating the causes of prostitution, especially seduction. Most major cities had shelters in which former prostitutes received vocational training and religious instruction. Several moral reform groups pushed for state laws against seduction.

The first such law, passed in New York in 1848, made the seduction of a previously chaste woman under the age of twenty-five punishable by a fine of up to $1,000 and a maximum of five years in prison. Other states passed similar laws. By the end of the nineteenth century most states had antiseduction laws. While evangelicals focused on licentiousness and prostitution, health reformers emphasized masturbation, the so-called solitary vice. In the late eighteenth century, the French physician Simon André Tissot had warned that the ejaculation of one ounce of semen equaled the loss of forty ounces of blood. The rise of pseudoscience in America fanned an interest in health reform, which nurtured a phobia of masturbation. Sylvester Graham brought masturbation to the forefront of cultural consciousness with his book Lectures to Young Men on Chastity (1834). A

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Reynolds, David S. *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson*. New York: Harper, 2008.

Footnote citation:

David S. Reynolds, *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson* (Harper, 2008), 205–206.

Shortened citation:

Reynolds, *Waking Giant*, 205–206.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.21

American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism

Dean Grodzins

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

Castor then announces that he will debate no more. He wants his scheme to be tried, "& since I am the strongest Beaver in the race, & of the most ancient family—& already have such a name for wisdom that the degree of Great Dam Projector—has been conferred on me this early, I shall go to work & take the lead of the rest in the most difficult labour of planning & building." The greybeards, afraid to sit still, joined him; the rest fell "merrily" in. They built better than before, and there has never since been a quarrel about mine and thine, for all have enough to spare.

There is an authoritarian element in this fantasy of which Parker may not have been wholly conscious. The idea of a single, heroic genius reorganizing a society resembles Jean-Jacques Rousseau's equally authoritarian concept of a national "Legislator."149 Parker's intended moral, however, seems to have been simply that society could be reformed if the true ideal were set before it—work he believed the "strong" members of society were both suited and morally obligated to undertake. Parker approved when George Ripley founded Brook Farm in □□□□on a democratic plan of mutual education: laborers and scholars would work side by side and teach each other. Yet Parker himself never joined Brook Farm, although he lived only two miles away. He believed his principal contribution to social reform would be made by transforming the church.

"I□□□□□□me groan to look into the evils of society," wrote Parker in his journal in July □□□□. "I thank God I am not born to set the matter right. I scarce dare attempt a reform of theology, lest I be in for the whole, & must... condemn the state & society no less than the church."150 Yet if Parker chose to focus his energies on reforming theology and the church, he did not believe he was thereby neglecting social reform. Rather, he placed religious reform at the center of his social reform plans.

So did the other Transcendentalists. At four of the five meetings of the little club in □□□□, the discussion revolved around reform and the creation of a new church. Brownson, Ripley, Alcott, and Parker, who differed with one another on many issues, all agreed that without religious reform, social change was impossible.

Once the Transcendentalists' ideas about religious reform are understood, some apparent disagreements between them diminish. For example, Parker says many times that although Christianity must be applied to the state and society, the "chiefest" and "best" way to apply it—the way that will ultimately do the most social good—is to the individual. Trust not to society, he says, to do the work of a divine life. Brownson, by contrast, in his articles on the "Laboring Classes," dismisses the idea society can be transformed by converting individuals to Christianity.This is "doubtless a capital theory," he says sarcastically, "and has the advantage that kings, hierarchies, nobilities,—in a

□□□ All the Force of Transcendentalism word, all who fatten on the toil and blood of their fellows, will feel no difficulty supporting it." It also is "exposed to one slight objection, that of being condemned by something like six thousand years' experience." The evils of society are not individual in character, says Brownson, nor can individuals, by directing their efforts to their own character, remove it. "Could we convert all men to Christianity in both theory and practice, as held by the most enlightened sect of Christians among us," he asserts, "the evils of the social state would remain untouched.... The only way to get rid of its evils is to change the system, not its managers."152

If read more carefully, however, Brownson is saying that it is useless to convert people to the Christianity of the church, even in its Unitarian form. He believes the world would indeed be changed if people were converted to the Christianity of Christ. The church "makes its deluded disciples believe that they have done their duty to God when

they have joined the church, offered a prayer, sung a psalm, and contributed of their means to send out a missionary to preach unintelligible doctrines to the poor heathen." By contrast, Christ demands that we "labor to reform society, to mould it according to the will of God and the nature of man." Parker's own distinction between the Christianities of the church and of Christ was similar.

Parker and Brownson, as has been seen, did disagree about inherited property. But in view of their ideas about religious reform, this disagreement does not appear so important. Brownson himself admits that any change in property relations would be a long time coming and then only after a mighty struggle. Our first task, he says, is the abolition of the "priesthood"—that class of persons which pretends to mediate between humanity and God. Fundamental change in the church, he and Parker agreed, was a priority.

Brownson locates the historical origin of social injustice in the priesthood. Early in human history, he says, certain people arose who took advantage of the natural human religious sentiment and the popular deference given to the wise to enslave their fellows and ensure honors and emolument for themselves. In this process, they brought to an end the wild freedom of the savage state and moved the race onto the first stage of civilization. The priesthood, therefore, is found everywhere as humanity rises out of savagery, ruling with an iron hand. The priests set up systems of social inequality that persist to this day, Brownson believes, and are the ultimate cause of the condition of the working classes.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Grodzins, Dean. *American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Dean Grodzins, *American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Grodzins, *American Heretic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.22

Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States

Lori D. Ginzberg

SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

in that work and rhetoric signaled an important transformation in that class's culture and politics. Tracing this transformation can help us trace the historical development of class identity in the United States and of women's role in it. Gender and class identities and interests, I argue, were not simply simultaneous throughout this process, each acting in its own place, but inextricable. Thus the book asks throughout how the ideology of female benevolence was used differently by women of different social groups and in different settings. What privileges—indeed, what authority— did the conflation of femininity and morality obscure? How did women of different social groups benefit from their commitment to the ideology of benevolent femininity? How did the middle class employ the ideology of benevolence and of female moral superiority in its own process of self-definition? Specifically, what roles did middleand upper-middle-class women themselves play in making the "language of virtue and vice," as Christine Stansell puts it, "a code of class"?10

Understanding the conflation of femaleness and morality in nineteenth-century ideology—and the history of that conflation—can also help us understand the changing nature of authority over the course of that century. Several layers of analysis must be peeled away from the rhetoric of benevolence in order to explain these changes. Certainly it is true, as some women's historians have pointed out, that the ideology of female moral influence granted some women more personal authority than they might otherwise have had, even as it demanded that they accede to their social subordination to men. It is also the case, as earlier historians of benevolence have argued, that the ideology of benevolence, and especially its insistence on specific standards of sexual, work, religious, and leisure behavior, underpinned the cultural authority of a multilayered middle class over the poor, the non-Protestant, and the fallen.

More surprising, perhaps, are the ways in which a reexamination of female benevolence and authority provides us with new insights into American political history. Antebellum political life reflected an important moment in the nation's struggle to balance democracy with the rule of dominant groups, a struggle too often viewed only in terms of an increasingly diverse electorate and party structure. Yet, although the extension of the franchise might mean the expansion and sharing of authority among Americans, it also meant that authority operated in hidden ways in an ostensibly democratic society. If the ideology of benevolence carried within it both radical and conservative implications for the development of women's sense of sexual solidarity, so too did the growing centrality of electoral politics contain complex and even contradictory meanings about the possibilities for social change. This book thus examines a society and, especially, a class that proclaimed the transcendent authority of women's influence in light of the changing nature of—and debate about—authority in American political life. The answers to these questions will surely teach us something about ideology—ranging from that of the most conservative and socially prominent of benevolent women to the most radical of middle-class Protestants—but more important, about the nature of gender as a social construct and the historical relationship among women, benevolence, and class.

The book is chronologically arranged, although several themes distinguish each chapter. After exploring the basic tenets of the ideology of female benevolence, chapter 1 describes the radical and conservative possibilities of that ideology, focusing especially on the role of women's belief in "benevolent femininity" in creating an analysis of sisterhood which could undermine male dominance, in defining the middle class, and in guarding propriety. The

book then explores the ways in which women of different social groups participated in undertakings that the ideology of femininity itself obscured—business and political activities, for example. Chapter 2 analyzes a broad spectrum of the business of benevolence, especially for women involved in traditional charitable and relief endeavors. It focuses in particular on women's participation in fund raising, wage paying, and legal incorporation, activities that the ideology of an intrinsically female nature so persistently obscured. Chapter 3 assesses the ideological separation of morality and politics in light of evidence that women participated in varied and extensive political activities. It also examines how the middle class's most radical—or "ultraist" female reformers grappled with their own political identities in the face of profound changes in American political life.

Although I initially expected to find that the fulcrum for the major changes in benevolence was the Civil War, it became clear that by the 1840s and 1850s, women and men were increasingly adopting institutional and electoral means for change and that these changes signaled new opportunities—as well as limits—for benevolent activists. Chapter 4, examines the emergence of a new generation of women just prior to the Cioi] War and demanctrates how the final antebellum decade set the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ginzberg, Lori D. *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Lori D. Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (Yale University Press, 1990), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.23

Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872

Nancy A. Hewitt

SELECTION	A Profusion of Pathways
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 45–46 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

able and valued labor and an autonomous identity, seems to have been one means of resolving these emerging contradictions for female members of the new community's elite. Yet in 1806 in Guilford, Connecticut, female parishioners at the Presbyterian Church failed in their attempt to form a female charity society. Their major opponent was the Reverend Mr. Elliott, whose "opinion would bear great weight with many." He believed such societies "to be ostentatious" and felt women could "find sufficient objects upon which to bestow their mite, within their own limits." Mary Stone did not entirely agree with her spiritual leader but wrote to coworshiper and coworker Mabel Ward that it was perhaps best to "omit meeting" and "gather what money we can,... and send it enclosed in a letter with as little noise and ostentation as possible."

Frontier conditions and the attendant necessity of everyone's labor apparently made women's public labors more acceptable, for in 1822 Mabel Ward became the first president of the Rochester CS.'* Moreover, she and her coworkers received the wholehearted support of village fathers, including the leading clergymen, who preached fund-raising sermons on the CS's behalf in 1822. For perfectionist women, the frontier was less geographical than moral. The land and animals around Rochester had been tamed, but men themselves had grown wilder, demonstrating vices too numerous to count and too lascivious to contemplate. In organizing local campaigns to rid the land of intemperance, slavery, and licentiousness, perfectionists drew on their experiences as benevolent laborers, revival agents, and small-town moral reformers and on their knowledge of activities in New York City, Philadelphia, and Boston." The achievement of a perfect society demanded a nationwide effort, and the existence of the American Anti-Slavery Society in Boston and the American Female Moral Reform Society in New York City eased women's entrance into public activism in smaller communities. The initial support of evangelical clergy, including such national figures as Charles Grandison Finney, also legitimated women's efforts.

Once involved in perfectionist activities, local women were spurred on by the need to send periodic reports to the parent societies and reinforced by the publication of letters and reports in national journals such as the Liberator and the Advocate of Moral Reform. Even when retreating from perfectionist labors in the 1840s, evangelical women would follow the paths set by their big-city sisters, who first moved from moral reform to the institutionalization of "friendless'" women and from immediate emancipation to aid for free blacks and fugitive slaves.'* Ultraists, settling in Rochester later than their benevolent or perfectionist counterparts, arrived with the greatest amount of public experience. Within Quaker meetings and farming communities, women were active in the promotion of social order and community welfare. Traditions of social service—to the poor, imprisoned, and insane—and of social reform—in religious testimonies against slavery, intemperance, and war—characterized Quaker circles throughout England and America.

From the 1834 founding of the Genesee Yearly Meeting, which encompassed portions of Canada, central New York and the Old Northwest as well as Rochester, the women's and men's "meetings" also voiced their disapproval of capital punishment and tobacco and their support of Indian rights, manual labor schools and woman's rights." In the transition from Quaker activism to worldly activism, ultraist women, like their perfectionist counterparts, utilized the resources of national associations such as the American Anti-Slavery Society. Since they came to worldly labors in Rochester with considerably more experience than earlier female activists. however, ultraists were less dependent on extralocal models and sometimes surpassed national leaders in their vision of a free and equal society." Frontier conditions, previous experience, clerical support, and extralocal models and resources all bolstered women's entry

into the public domain. On an individual basis“ however, the most important factor may well have been the support of family and friends, especially of female kin and husbands. In many families both men and women responded to appeals for action from ministers, village leaders, itinerant reform agents, or their own conscience.
Activist networks overlay kinship networks, which also formed the infrastructure of Rochester’s business community, neighborhoods, and political leadership. These

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hewitt, Nancy A. *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Nancy A. Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872* (Cornell University Press, 1984), 45–46.

Shortened citation:

Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change*, 45–46.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.24

The Transcendentalists and Their World

Robert A. Gross

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Excerpt

The Transcendentalist focus on religious sentiment was well suited to a society in transition. For if the core of faith was an ineffable feeling of communion with the divine spirit, knowable only to the individual in the recesses of the soul, then the means of its expression were mere expedients, dependent on time and place. “Everything connected with [religion] is subject to change,” George Ripley instructed the assembly at Brownson’s ordination. All its “forms … may be varied.” The place of worship may be “under the magnificent dome of a cathedral, or on the dreary hill-side with no canopy but the blue vault of Heaven.” The rituals of one church can seem “deficient or superfluous” to another. So too with theology: “the speculative doctrines of religion … may assume new forms and be clothed in new language.” Nothing was fixed but “the indestructible religious sentiment in the human heart … It is the same, today, that it always has been.”

This very fluidity of faith—its multiplicity of forms—was key to the future of religion. For “great changes [were] taking place on every side,” George Ripley observed, “old ideas, old institutions, old habits of thought” giving way to new conceptions “supposed to proceed more directly from reason, and the natural wants of man.” Why cling to an outdated status quo? Nothing in nature was “still.” The “material universe” was ruled by the “law of perpetual change.” Likewise for human affairs: “our experience is diversified by a constant succession of changes.” Under these shifting circumstances, organized religion—the institutions and practices of the Christian churches and of the Unitarians in particular—faced a fundamental challenge. “Will the progress of society … leave religion in the background,” Ripley asked, “and reject it as an outworn and useless thing?”

Not if these Transcendentalist ministers had their way. Their prospectus for change was framed for a democratic age. Religion, in this view, did not belong to the few; it was neither the property of priests nor the prerogative of an elect. The sentiment of faith inhered in every person, at once the foundation of human dignity and the spur to a virtuous life. It was thus crucial to awaken each individual to the divine potential within.

Brownson, the child of the laboring class, was acutely aware of the inequalities in American life and determined to overcome them in the name of faith. “The means of moral and intellectual growth, so far as society can furnish them,” he wrote in the Christian Examiner, “should be within the reach of the humblest as well as the proudest member of the community.” Free public education, overseen by an “aristocracy of real virtue,” was indispensable to this end. With those “who best represent the spirit of Jesus” at the helm, “there would be no subordination of classes, no exclusive privileges, no monopoly of social advantages.” All individuals would then exercise the opportunity to realize their highest selves. And in the process, government and society would embrace a “higher and purer principle of action.” For “all social reforms must be the effect of individual reform.” To encourage such personal transformation became the grand mission of the Transcendentalist clergy, Emerson included.

The stirring of Transcendentalism quickened the currents of dissent in the Boston area. As the Standing Order was coming to an end, the bustling capital presented an unprecedented spectacle of religious pluralism. In 1833 over fifty congregations and chapels served some sixty thousand residents. While orthodox and liberal Congregationalists fought for control of a dying establishment, a variety of other Protestant faiths—Baptists, Methodists, Episcopalians, Quakers, and Universalists—took advantage of the disarray and found opportunities for growth among those who were disaffected from the mainline churches or flocking into the city from the countryside. Heterodoxy flourished. A Church of the New Jerusalem, founded on the teachings of the Swedish mystic Emanuel Swedenborg, promised to reveal the hidden spiritual meanings behind all living things—a doctrine with passing appeal to Emerson and other

Transcendentalists. Also claiming a place in the City upon a Hill were two Roman Catholic houses of worship, serving a fast-growing population, overwhelmingly Irish immigrants, that would reach twenty thousand by 1835.

A large body of citizens was unchurched, often by preference. Radical ideas were circulating in the Boston area during the early 1830s, as a Workingmen's Party organized to protest harsh conditions of labor and inequalities of wealth and power in the industrializing economy. It denounced the capitalist class as furiously as the Anti-Masons assailed the secretive fraternity. The iconoclasm extended to religion. In 1830 an irreverent activist named Abner Kneeland (1774–1844) launched the Boston Investigator to foster "universal mental liberty" and to support the political program of Andrew Jackson. Once a Baptist layman and then a Universalist minister, the editor was now a freethinker who devoted himself to mocking the beliefs of faithful Christians and attacking the clergy for upholding an unjust social order. Twice a week he held forth to a Society of Free Enquirers with a thoroughgoing materialism that deemed the New Testament's account of Jesus's virgin birth, miracles, and resurrection to be utterly absurd. The "Temple of Reason" also hosted weekly dancing parties at which young men and women cultivated the "social affections." Adding to the scandal caused by the promiscuous assemblies was the open sale of a frank guide to birth control and sexuality, Fruits of Philosophy, written by a Massachusetts doctor named Charles Knowlton. Such concentration on physical existence, with no hint of religious sentiment, was antithetical to idealists like Emerson. "To be without God in the world," he reflected in April 1834, was to endure a "terrible solitude," void of hope and meaning. Yet Kneeland's convictions could easily be confused with Transcendentalism. "I believe that the whole universe is nature," the editor told readers, "and that God and Nature are perfectly synonymous terms."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gross, Robert A. *The Transcendentalists and Their World*. New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Robert A. Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World* (Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.25

American Reformers, 1815-1860

Ronald G. Walters

SELECTION	AMERICAN REFORMERS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 28–29 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

The significance of perfectionism here is not the forms it took aggrandizement and heresy, it was also an energizing principle, inspiring people who wanted to impose absolute moral integrity upon their own lives and upon a changing world. Perfectionism helped creinsisted anything short of millennial standards should not be tolerated.

alcohol was evil, and an unwillingness to compromise. Unlike their eighteenth-century or twentieth-century counterparts, antebellum reformers seldom wanted merely to improve conditions. They wanted

People felt and acted upon the crucial doctrines of evangelical Prot-

Evangelicalism was a religion of the heart, not the head. It asserted that salvation was an internal conviction, an experience, not something arrived at through study and contemplation. Theodore Dwight phrased it well when sympathizing with a friend who was puzzling his way through "mere intellectual theories of religion." Weld's advice was for the man to give up, turn "to direct communion with God," and bring his "spirit simply and utterly in contact with infinite purity and love." Weld was not repudiating intellectual activity, in the manner of some twentieth-century revivalists, but he was calling for a religion of emotion rather than dogma. That evangelical faith in the heart was extremely significant. Like Finney's disinterested benevolence and perfectionism, it belonged to was a proclamation that everyone, not just professors of divinity, could anything put forth by Jacksonian politicians. In common with much feeling and intuition. Of singular importance for reform was the antithe clergy, might be judged and found wanting by the true believer.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Ronald G. Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 28–29.

Shortened citation:

Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860*, 28–29.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.26

Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England

Teresa Anne Murphy

SELECTION	Ten Hours Labor
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 176–177 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

In Lynn the radical reform impulse moved about as far beyond institutional churches as it would go in any town in the nation. In a variety of forms, come-outerism structured reform activity in Lynn and marginalized clergy who might have otherwise par¬ ticipated in that town's reform activity. This may account for the lack of discussion about issues of religion or salvation in Lynn.[28]

Where such discussion did occur, however, the line between re¬ ligious aspiration and economic activity was purposely blurred. Narratives focused less on the triumphs of salvation than on the physical and economic constraints of salvihc progress, less on the spiritual independence of true believers than on their de¬ pendence on workplace conditions. If evangelical religion en¬ couraged working people to become agents of their own destiny, that agency now became problematized, as the cyclical and per¬ formative nature of religious conversion narratives was trans¬ formed into an instrumental language of change. A similar trans¬ formation was apparent in the adaptation of Washingtonianism.

Temperance Transformed

As working people tried to establish an image of moral asser¬ tiveness in a morally degraded atmosphere, Washingtonianism would provide them with a model equally as important as re¬ ligion. And just as religious leaders had provided support, so would Washingtonian speakers. In Fall River the Washingto¬ nians marched in the ten-hour parade on the Fourth of July in

1844, and many of the leading Washingtonians supported the ten-hour men in the pages of The All Sorts. As The Mechanic would claim in trumpeting this support, "the Ten Hour men are Washingtonians in principle/ [29] Leaders among the Lynn Wash¬ ingtonians were also leaders among the cordwainers and the tenhour advocates. When David Pierce came from Fall River to offer support to the journeymen of Lynn in their labor struggles, he was also dragged by William Fraser to Mechanics Hall to address the Washingtonian Society. While the impact of institutional religion in Lynn was limited, that of temperance reform was not.[30]

The ideal Washingtonian was particularly suited to providing a solution to the dilemma of representing a man who could be morally degraded yet virtuous, for both coexisted in the re¬ formed drunk as it might in the reformed worker, at least the reformed male worker. Workingwomen were still bound by ex¬ pectations of moral purity. But Washingtonianism provided an excellent model for the workingman to assert his moral superi¬ ority over the employer. Thus labor reform and Washingtonian¬ ism shared a dual strategy of conversion and subversion. Work¬ ing people and the community at large might be converted by the example and rhetoric of labor activists while the moral authority of mill owners was undermined.

Author's Notes

28. For a discussion of come-outerism in Lynn, see Lewis Perry, Radical Aboli¬ tionism: Anarchy and the Government of God in Antislavery Thought (Ithaca, N.Y., 1973), pp. 97-128.

29. The Mechanic, July 13, 1844.

30. David Pierce's name figured prominently in the Record of the Fall River Washington Total Abstinence Society (Manuscript Collection, First Baptist Church of Fall River).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Murphy, Teresa Anne. *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Teresa Anne Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England* (Cornell University Press, 1992), 176–177.

Shortened citation:

Murphy, *Ten Hours' Labor*, 176–177.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.27

The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850

Whitney R. Cross

SELECTION	A MORAL REFORMATION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 237–238 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1950.

Excerpt

"I do love to meet a Yankee girl... especially... west of the Hudson.... She generally speaks what she thinks; nor is she fearful of thinking independently either.... She is less erratic in thought than the mincing prude.... She has none of the low tricks... too fashionable among many young ladies...." Thus spoke an editor far distant from western New York.

Not all Burned-over District folk shared this admiration for Yankee integrity in the fair sex, but ultraists for the most part seem to have sympathized. Women in western New York began with nearly equal rights in the church communion and preached in some sects from the earliest times. They fostered and abetted religious enthusiasm more largely than did men. They branched out in the ultraist period to participate strongly in temperance, abolition, and moral reform. Elizabeth Cady Stanton, Amelia Bloomer, Susan B. Anthony, Antoinette Brown Blackwell, the Grimke sisters, and others soon to lead the women's rights move¬ ment served apprenticeship in the reforms which flourished in western New York. The one-ideaism of the religious zealots, how¬ ever, kept them from associating feminism with their causes as did the New Englanders, and the female vote, like so many other things the radicals wanted, could be attained only by political action, which blended poorly with religious enthusiasm. Only after the ultraist phase had passed could the women's rights enterprise take form, and that movement had very little connection with western New York's religious history. But the Seneca Falls Convention of

1848 occurred in a region which had done much to bring its pur¬ poses to the point of expression. Delayed though it was, this later crusade owed a great deal to the Burned-over District's "moral reformation."

ALL the abhorrence which now falls upon slavery, intemperilance, lewdness and every other species of vice will in due time be gathered into one volume of victorious wrath against sin....

If you love... the forefront of the hottest battle of righteous¬ ness... set your faces toward perfect holiness." This advice of John Humphrey Noyes to William Lloyd Garrison closely paral¬ leled Charles Finney's to Theodore Weld, that he subordinate abolitionism to revivalism, and both indicate the superior logic of perfectionism over moral reform. For in exerting their zeal upon some single evil the reformers allowed their thoughts to be warped away from the comprehensive piety of their ultraist origin. Saner, more consistent minds persisted in seeking a progressively more intensive and more nearly absolute righteousness through spiritual regeneration. Perfectionism was the highroad out of ultraism. That some of the more spectacular experiments in Burned-over District history occurred along its route does not prove that its exponents were irrational fanatics but rather demonstrates their superior ability to carry originally questionable assumptions to thoroughly appropriate conclusions.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Cross, Whitney R. *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1950.

Footnote citation:

Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850* (Cornell University Press, 1950), 237–238.

Shortened citation:

Cross, *The Burned-over District*, 237–238.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.28

Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860

Carl F. Kaestle

SELECTION	Pillars of the Republic
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 78–79 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Excerpt

Native Protestant localists shared many ideological perspectives with native Protestant cosmopolitans, but they believed that cosmopolitan reformers had wrongly interpreted the ideology's very first proposition. The sacredness and fragility of republican government required local control and participation in institutions, above all else. A thoroughgoing delineation of variants of native Protestant ideology in nineteenth-century America would also identify a Southern slaveholding variant and possibly—though the evidence is still shrouded—one or more working-class variants.

Arguments about the relationship between ideology and class cannot be conclusive at our present state of knowledge. Did the social beliefs shared by Horace Mann, Henry Barnard, John Pierce, and William Seward constitute a class ideology? The fact that most writers on educational and moral reform were themselves middleclass does not necessarily make it a middle-class ideology. But class." Protestant revivalism and reform activities had a bourgeois character. Religion, reform, and education provided pious activities and sometimes careers for young middle-class males and females. The adoption of such values and participation in such class family and in the embourgeoisement of some middle-level workers such as clerks, foremen, and teachers. Furthermore, many literature, or the derogatory attitudes toward poor workers and immigrants in schoolbooks, newspaper commentary, and sermons.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kaestle, Carl F. *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Footnote citation:

Carl F. Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1983), 78–79.

Shortened citation:

Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic*, 78–79.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.29

City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860

Christine Stansell

SELECTION	ty of Women, pp. 218-220
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 219–220 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986.

Excerpt

As gender identity became a contested issue in conflicts of class, reform ers drew part of their own sense of mission from combatting this expansion of working-class female culture. Especially on the streets, both the sexual culture of daughters and the domestic culture of mothers were antithetical to the terms of home life and womanhood developed and championed by urban ladies. Sympathy for their working-class sisters and a rudimentary perception of the debilities they shared with them did motivate female charity workers and reformers. Ultimately, however, the bonds of woman hood depended on notions of "true" gender identity based on a particular class experience, and sympathy for the "virtuous" working-class woman- she who conformed to the ladies' standards-was conferred at the expense of all the "vicious" who did not. The vision of universal sisterhood elevated bourgeois women and their imitators above misogynist ideology, but left unchallenged-indeed perpetuated-misogynist views of the mass of working-class women.

The idea of sisterhood was thus inextricable from the ascendancy of the bourgeoisie in New York to cultural and political dominance. By the r850s, the reform of the working-class gender system had become a pro grammatic goal of many municipal leaders. A movement largely dominated by men institutionalized domesticity into laws which sought to enforce genteel family practices among working-class people, laws that implicitly sought to transform the character of working-class womanhood into one resembling more closely the female identity that the cult of domesticity celebrated.

The 1850s set the terms of both female struggles and female accommoda tions across class lines for the next half century. In the new school attend ance law and the work of the CAS female volunteers lay the roots of the Americanization campaign which at the end of the century reshaped the lives of so many working-class immigrants to New York. Then, the settle ment houses and public schools were to expand the antebellum mothers' classes and girls' housekeeping lessons into a vast program of nativist assimi lation as well as female self-help. Women social workers and teachers, many of them inspired by feminist impulses to help their poorer sisters, would assure immigrant mothers and daughters that the key to decent lives lay in creating American homes within the immigrant neighborhoods-homes that aspired to a particular bourgeois configuration of possessions, housekeeping practices and family relations. As in the 1850s, the effort to domesticate the plebeian household would be linked in the Progressive era to a campaign to eradicate a ubiquitous and aggressive working-class culture.

The women's rights movement before the Civil War was too absorbed in middle-class women's dilemmas in marriage, work and property rela tions to learn much from working-class women. Only in the 1870s did Susan Anthony begin to turn away from abstract, sentimentalist images of work ingwomen popular in her social milieu to begin learning about the concrete debilities of working-class women's lives. Even then, Anthony mostly had to do the investigating for herself; working-class women still lacked a collective language in which to articulate publicly their particular griev ances. Male-dominated trade unions, increasingly committed to the family wage, provided few ways for women to express either the troubles they endured or the desires they might conceive in the social terrain outside the male-headed family. Even the Knights of Labor, which actively sought out women's participation, did so under the beacon of a higher working-class domesticity, to be achieved when (male) workers finally earned the full value of their labor. The family wage-and the ideology of gender that encompassed it-served well enough for women attached to men. For them, it meant a liberation from the double shift of wage earning superim posed on household work. And

certainly when the labor movement at its most radical mobilized entire communities-as in the great railroad strike of 1877, the eight-hour day strikes of 1886 and the IWW strikes of the early twentieth century-it incorporated many concerns of wives and mothers.

Nonetheless, what Sally Alexander has written of the Chartist women in England in the 1830s and 1840s was also true of the militant wives in the small Ohio railroad towns on strike in 1877, the German women who cheered the May Day demonstrators in Chicago, 1886 and the Italian mill worker mothers who marched for bread and roses in Lawrence, 1912: "Women could only speak as active subjects at selective moments, and within the community." The language of feminism subsumed working class women's experience into categories of victimization, and the language of class struggle blurred the particularities of their lives into the unified interests of the working-class family.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stansell, Christine. *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986.

Footnote citation:

Christine Stansell, *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1986), 219–220.

Shortened citation:

Stansell, *City of Women*, 219–220.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.30

Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865

Clifford S. Griffin

SELECTION	Westerners and Immigrants
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 211–212 · Supplied edition: Rutgers University Press, 1960.

Excerpt

and canals, occupying our kitchens, driving our carriages, and electing our rulers."

Except for the emphasis on a conscious desire to dominate American politics, the societies spread similar ideas about German skeptics. The nation, asserted the officers of the Education Society, needed trained ministers to "expose the sophistries thrown upon us by German rationalists" and other infidels. The leaders of the Tract Society argued that the foreigners despised a spiritual faith, neglected practical piety, and, more heinous still, refused to support benevolent institutions. In 1848, the Reverend Stephen H. Tyng, prominent New York City Episcopalian, lumped together Germans and other foreigners and warned that they brought to America the licentiousness and infidelity which, "spreading its poison into every dark spot and fetid kennel of our cities, groping along in every sly place," presented a tempting appearance, but "like a scorpion" stung its victims to death.?* The officers blamed immigrants for the vice and crime of the burgeoning American cities.

On April 21, 1854, about 5,500 foreigners reached New York City alone, and in its annual report of that year the Sunday School Union warned that 1,000 of them were paupers, to be sustained by poor taxes and private charity, and that another 100 were "implacable foes to the best interests of society, if not to its peace and safety." Three years later, the Bible Society's managers stated that immigrants comprised most of the city's poor."* As the foreigners increased in number, the Home Missionary, Bible, and Tract societies tried to convert them. For Catholics, there were tracts designed to show by Biblical quotations that everything about the Roman religion was wrong: that Christ had never ordained the seven sacraments, chastity of the clergy, or the Catholic hierarchy, and that, indeed, the popes were not St. Peter's successors."* For other immigrants, there were translations of suitable evangelical works; by 1859, the Tract Society had published over 14,000,- 000 pamphlets in many foreign languages and was annually circulating about 27,000 copies of its German periodical, the Botschafter.

In its early years, the Bible Society bought its German, Gaelic, and Welsh Scriptures from England, but this system became inadequate and too costly and the managers began to print their own supply. By 1857, they were annually issuing over 45,000 Bibles in German, Welsh, Spanish, and French. Between 1818 and 1842, the Society also published French and Spanish translations of the Catholic Latin Vulgate for distribution in South America, and, more particularly, in New Orleans and the Southwest. The officers justified their action by saying that the Vulgate was the only Bible that Catholics would receive, and that there was really very little objectionable material in it. But opposition from Protestants who feared that such labors would prevent the conversion of Catholics forced the Society to discontinue publication.?® Books and tracts reached the immigrants through colporteurs and agents who spoke foreign languages. Leger Ritty, a converted Catholic, was the first of the Tract Society's German colporteurs. Beginning in August, 1842, Ritty labored with a convert's zeal to induce his fellow immigrants in Ohio and Indiana to become good American Protestants.

With a special assistant and several German volunteers, Ritty distributed thousands of copies of the seven volumes and over one hundred tracts which the Society issued in German. In the summer of 1844, Samuel J. Jones, a student at Union Theological Seminary, worked among Welshmen in Oneida County, New York. Ritty and Jones were prototypes. By 1852, the Society having increased its number of colporteurs, 104 of its 473 full-time employees were at work among German, Welsh, Irish, French, Spanish, Norwegian, Danish, and Dutch immigrants.?°

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Griffin, Clifford S. *Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865*. New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press, 1960.

Footnote citation:

Clifford S. Griffin, *Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865* (Rutgers University Press, 1960), 211–212.

Shortened citation:

Griffin, *Their Brothers' Keepers*, 211–212.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.31

The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic

David J. Rothman

SELECTION	ntroduction to the 1990 Edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Little, Brown, 1971.

Excerpt

The interpretations that locate the origins o f the asylum in aprofound uneasiness about the fragility o f the social order are often joined under the rubric ofa school o f social control. That they do share similarities o f outlook is indisputable — one need only note the repetition o f such words as social order, disorder, regulation, and discipline i n their titles and subtitles. Nevertheless, the social control label is an ill-suited one, obfuscating more than it clarifies and oversimplifying a complex historical analysis.

The term "social control" had its origins in sociology in the 1920s and 1930s, i n the writings ofmen like George Herbert Mead and E. A. Ross. They invoked it in order to promote a sharper appreciation o f the role o f subjective and qualitative values inbinding social groups together. Rather than assuming that the good order o f the society rested on the regulatory au thority or police power o f the state, they sought to connect it to commonly held values and principles, to make social order the result not o f fiat and force but o f ideas and sympathy. Accord ingly, the institutions o f social control that concerned them were not the police or the army but the family, the church, and the school. I n fact, they searched so broadly for the agents that instilled social harmony that they made social control indistin guishable from socialization. Convinced that Americain the opening decades o f the twentieth century exemplified an or dered society and that Americans shared a value system that bound everyone together (think, for example, o f the implica tions o f the metaphor o f the melting pot), they found social control everywhere and applauded its exercise.

Not until the post—World War II period did the term change, and actually reverse its meaning. Sociologists like RichardCloward and Francis Piven and left-leaning Marxist scholars made it synonymous not with persuasion but with imposition o f state or class authority over the lower classes. Social control was equated with repression and coercion, with the formal and in formal mechanisms intended to obscure realities (generally de fined as evidence o f class repression) and, that effort failing, to compel order and obedience. It was with this negative connota tion, not with its Progressive roots, that social control came to the attention o f historians.

A t first appearance, the concept served a highly useful pur pose, stimulating a series o f novel questions and serving as a useful corrective to the prevailing idea on "reform." Although "social control" was never clearly defined and one never knew what did or did not come under the rubric, it encouraged a group o f historians to stop taking claims o f benevolence at face value and to start investigating the purposes, benign or not so benign, that a purported reform might fulfill. (That the need for this exercise was not already self-evident testifies to the power within the discipline ofa reformist, or what the English call aWhig, interpretation o f history.) The result was to promote fresh questions about the asylum, and fresh answers as well. Indeed, this new perspective had a liberating effect also on the historians o f the family, o f education, and o f social welfare.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothman, David J. *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1971.

Footnote citation:

David J. Rothman, *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic* (Little, Brown, 1971), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Rothman, *The Discovery of the Asylum*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.32

The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol

Eric Burns

SELECTION	The Father of Prohibition and Other Kinfolk
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 65–66 · Supplied edition: Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Alexis de Tocqueville understood. He knew that the success of the movement had more to it than just disgust at the consequences of demon rum. “Americans of all ages,” he would write after visiting the United States and returning to his native France, “all stations to life and all types of dispositions are forever forming associations.” And Ralph Waldo Emerson understood. He knew that Americans liked to dedicate those associations to noble ends. “What is a man born for,” he asked rhetorically, “but to be a Reformer, a Remaker of what man has made?”

Yet these early advocates of temperance were not zealots, not singleminded, rock-jawed, fire-breathing tub-thumpers. Not by any means, not yet. Alice Fleming writes that most of them “took a fairly lenient approach to alcohol. Like Benjamin Rush, who was a patron saint for many, they were against ‘ardent spirits’—rum whiskey, and brandy— but they had no objections to weaker drinks like cider, wine, and beer. Moreover, although they condemned drunkenness, they argued for moderation in drinking, rather than total abstinence.” And they appealed to each of their fellow citizens to limit his own consumption voluntarily; they did not seek laws to force him or divine intervention to make him feel guilty for lapses.

All of that changed, however, with the first of the reform groups to spread beyond the borders of a single community or state. It was the American Society for the Promotion of Temperance, founded in Boston in 1826 and soon to shorten its name to the American Temperance Society. According to its first official statement, the group

At the start, the men who adopted the preceding position allowed themselves to drink, as the name says, temperately. A few of them, at least, enjoyed a beer or a little wine with a meal, or even a shot of whiskey on a special occasion, believing that there was little harm in a little drink. They were proud men, used to making decisions for themselves and sticking with them; by demonstrating that they could yield to temptation, but only to a point of their own choosing, they proved that they were in fact temptation’s masters.

Before long, though, problems arose. Some of the members of the American Temperance Society began to suspect others of abusing the principle of self-determination. As the society increased in size, the suspicions increased as well. To an extent, it might have been a matter of envy, with those who forced themselves to drink only an ounce or two of alcoholic beverage a week looking longingly at those who downed three or four ounces, or a pint. Then the former began to lash out at the latter, to accuse them of a self-indulgence that made a mockery of the society’s purpose. And both former and latter united in looking even more longingly—and resentfully—at those who consumed a quart or more per seven days. There was too much freedom here, too much individual initiative; one man’s temperance was another’s license, and this kind of thing could only lead to anarchy. The founders of the American Temperance Society decided to rethink their initial tolerance.

What they concluded, after a minimal amount of debate, was that distinctions of quantity were henceforth irrelevant; no longer could there be such a thing as a little harm, no longer could an individual make his own choices. The society, meaning those who served as its officers, would do the deciding for the membership as a whole, and the decision would be final.

Those who disagreed, although few, were vocal; they continued to insist that moderate drinking had no real effect on either a person’s health or his chances for eternal glory. But the extremists carried the day. Henceforth, a member of the American Temperance Society would have to give up alcoholic beverages altogether. According to several

historians, when the member agreed to this, the letter "t," for total abstainer, was placed next to his name on the society's rolls. The individual thus became a teetotaler.

To many, the new absolutism was simply a means of eliminating weakness and hypocrisy from the temperance ideal. But to others, it was hypocrisy of a profound nature, not to mention a rigidity so much at odds with human nature that it could not possibly succeed. George Brown Tindall, in his two-volume narrative of the American past, called the triumph of the despots "a pyrrhic victory that caused moderates to abstain from the movement instead."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burns, Eric. *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Eric Burns, *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004), 65–66.

Shortened citation:

Burns, *The Spirits of America*, 65–66.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.33

Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States

Lori D. Ginzberg

SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

Until very recently, historians who studied early nineteenthcentury benevolent activity viewed it as an assertion of social control, an attempt to impose class-specific values on the poor and foreign. They were, however, reluctant to grant much import to women in this effort at cultural domination, except to describe them as "an indispensible source of educated hands to [do] the work."2 Apparently presuming class to be a "male" issue—a category both defined and disputed by males only—historians of the benevolent empire assumed that women played no role in shaping the particular causes which asserted a class identity.

Recent explorations in women's history have transformed the study of antebellum benevolent women. Nancy Cott, Kathryn Kish Sklar, and Carroll Smith-Rosenberg, in their studies of antebellum middle-class women's identities, have underscored both the ambiguities and the richness of the concept of "woman's sphere" and its impact on white middle-class women's self-understanding. By looking at women's own writings, Cott in particular has explicated the tensions between women's subordinate status and the sense of self worth gained from womanhood's "bonds"—the tensions, that is, between the conservative implications of relegating women to a separate sphere and the potentially radical sense of solidarity gained from that experience.[3] Building on these insights, Barbara Berg, Estelle Freedman, and others in their studies of nineteenth-century religion and reform have explored how, through the assertion of a shared female identity, middleclass women sought to transcend class differences between themselves and their less privileged "sisters." Barbara Epstein has illuminated the conflicts that evangelical religion ignited between women and men.[4] Women's historians have thus elucidated both the individual and the societal importance of the ideology of gender. They have at the same time given us a greater understanding of white Protestant women as active participants in nineteenth-century society and as shapers of benevolence itself. We still know little about why the ideology of "woman's sphere" emerged when it did and what large cultural implications it had, but we do know that many middle-class Protestant women incorporated its tenets into their own self image, that they used it to justify a wide range of social activities, and that it provided at least some basis for a consciousness based on the shared experience of being women.[5]

Author's Notes

3. Carroll Smith-Rosenberg, "Beauty, the Beast, and the Militant Woman: A Case Study of Sex Roles and Social Stress in Jacksonian America," American Quarterly 23 (October 1971): 562—84, and "The Female World of Love and Ritual: Relations between Women in Nineteenth-Century America," Signs 1 (Fall 1975): 1-29; Nancy F. Cott, The Bonds of Womanhood: "Woman's Sphere" in New England, 1780—1835 (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1977); Kathryn Kish Sklar, Catharine Beecher: A Study in American Domesticity (New York: W. W. Norton, 1976).

4. Barbara J. Berg, The Remembered Gate: Origins of American Feminism: The Woman and the City, rt800—1860 (New York: Oxford University Press, 1978); Estelle B. Freedman, Their Sisters' Keepers: Women's Prison Reform in America, 1830-1930 (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1981); Barbara Leslie Epstein, The Politics of Domesticity: Women, Evangelism, and Temperance in Nineteenth-Century America (Middletown, Conn.: Wesleyan University Press, 1981). See also Mary P. Ryan, "A Women's Awakening: Evangelical Religion and the Families of Utica, N.Y., 1800-1840," in Women and American Religion, ed. Janet Wilson James (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1980), pp. 89—110.

5. I frame the words "woman's sphere" in quotation marks intentionally. The concept of "spheres" is, after all, ideological, although it has too often come to represent historians' understanding of the actual experience of at least white middle-class Protestant women. What I have found in my work is that the reality of women's lives was quite different from the ideology which they themselves used and that, furthermore, the acceptance of the tenets of woman's sphere by historians has too often served to obscure that distinction, unwittingly preventing women from leaving the sphere itself. Several recent articles have grappled with these questions on a theoretical basis. Although several appeared after I had almost finished writing this book, they have helped me locate my own thinking in the changing historiography on women. See especially Nancy A. Hewitt, "Beyond the Search for Sisterhood: American Women's History in the 1980s," Social History 10 (October 1985): 299-321; Linda K. Kerber, "Separate Spheres, Female Worlds, Woman's Place: The Rhetoric of Women's History," Journal of

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ginzberg, Lori D. *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Lori D. Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (Yale University Press, 1990), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.34

A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837

Paul E. Johnson

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 5–6 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Excerpt

Beecher based his statement not only on the number of conversions but on a profound change in what conversion meant. For the revival of 1831, more than any other event, marked the acceptance of an activist and millennialist evangelicalism as the faith of the northern middle class. New England revivals in the first quarter of the century had been quiet, decorous affairs, presided over by settled ministers who wanted only to reinstate conformity to God's laws among God's people. (In a world where God alone determined who was saved, mass evangelism was useless and vaguely blasphemous.) Lyman Beecher, when he heard that Charles Finney and other New Yorkers had devised ways of "getting up" revivals, promised to call out the militia if they brought their heresy into New England. But in 1831, with the revival exploding all around him, he invited Finney into his own Boston church.* Within a few years free agency, perfectionism, and millennialism were middle-class orthodoxy.

They were powerful ideas, and in the 1830s they underlay a missionary crusade that transformed society and politics in the United States. It was Gilbert Barnes, a historian of the antislavery movement writing in the 1930s, who "discovered" the revival of 1831. Barnes wanted to explain why, in the

1830s, critics of slavery rejected gradualist techniques, recruited thousands of new supporters, and attacked the South's peculiar institution as a national evil that demanded immediate abolition. He analyzed the rhetoric and tactics of the movement and the sources of its support, and argued convincingly that antislavery immediatism was a direct outgrowth of the revival of 1830-31.°

Since then, Barnes's discovery has been extended to the whole array of antebellum reform. The temperance, moral reform, and missionary societies of the 1820s had been organizations of gentlemen who wished to slow the course of social and political change and reinforce their domination over a hopelessly godless multitude. In the early 1830s newly converted evangelicals invaded all of these organizations and took most of them over. The new reformers did not want to control the inevitable excesses of drunkards and prostitutes and Jacksonian Democrats. They wanted to liberate them from their sins. Through individual conversion and public example, and increasingly through mass politics and outright coercion, they promised to eliminate sin from society and pave the way for the Second Coming. The same millennial hopes guided a dramatic increase in home missions, and they shaped the beginnings of organized anti-Catholicism in this country.®

The reform societies are parts of an accessible and public history, and we have known about religious influences within them for a long time. More recently, scholars have begun the systematic study of everyday social life, and again they are confronting the evangelicals and their works. The 1820s witnessed the beginnings of large-scale manufacturing in American cities, and with it came attempts to subject farm boys and preindustrial artisans to the discipline and monotony of modern work. Historians of labor are finding that in the 1830s proto-industrialists fought that battle with religious weapons. Their most favored means of combating drunkenness, spontaneous holidays, and inattention to work were the temperance society, the Sunday school, and the revival. Indeed many masters and manufacturers saw industrialization as a civilizing mission: they believed in their hearts that in proletarianizing workmen they were rescuing them from barbarism and granting them the benefits of Christian discipline. The workingmen, of course, saw things differently, and the crucial first generation of industrial conflict in this country was fought largely along religious lines.'

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Paul E. *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (Hill and Wang, 1978), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.35

Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860

Carl F. Kaestle

SELECTION	eology
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 101–102 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Excerpt

The coherence of native Protestant ideology gave it much persuasive force. If you assented to one or more of the proposithat you should believe in the subordination of women. Conversely, if you assaulted one of the beliefs, you could be portrayed as dependent; thus, if you attacked the unequal distribution of property, you could be portrayed, according to the ideology, as opposing the whole system. This rhetorical strategy—generalizing opponents' specific proposals into an assault on the social system can be seen in educational arguments. When some people proposed \ removing the Bible from classrooms in Wisconsin in 1858, the corporated in the law of the land." To remove the Bible from the schools would endanger "all we now hold dear and sacred: / our homes, our country, Christianity and the Bible." Historians have previously noted many overlapping articles of native Protestant social thought, but it is worth noting here again the tight web of cross-references and logical connections made by antebellum social commentators. They demonstrate the coherence of the ideology and help explain its potency. There were logical tensions and contradictions in the ideology—for example between racism and a belief in human perfectibility, or between domesticity and equal opportunity—but rhetorically each proposition was taken to be mutually reinforcing and completely compatible with the others. This is one aspect of ideology as simplification. While a culture as a whole may embody many paradoxes and contradictions, articulated ideology is a particular reflection of culture, a didactic and programmatic set of propositions used to defend institutions or reform; as such, articulated ideology tends to mute contradictions and stress coherence.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kaestle, Carl F. *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Footnote citation:

Carl F. Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1983), 101–102.

Shortened citation:

Kaestle, *Pillars of the Republic*, 101–102.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.36

The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol

Eric Burns

SELECTION	The Blues and How They Played
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 217–218 · Supplied edition: Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Eventually, or so it is claimed, some enterprising bootleggers went so far as to develop an airborne version of Rum Row. As John Kobler describes it,

It was an appalling set of circumstances, said the Anti-Saloon League, and proof positive that Prohibition and disarmament had something in common. Neither would work for the United States unless it were simultaneously embraced by the other nations of the world, virtually all of which happened to be wet and warmhearted and willing to export. This being the case, the league decided that the best thing to do was establish foreign offices. The Woman's Christian Temperance Union, which had lost so much of its clout domestically, also thought it might be a good idea to expand.

It never happened. There wasn't a single country on the globe that wanted either of them.

A seller's market does not inspire the same quality of merchandise as a buyers' market, no matter what the product, and Prohibition was the greatest sellers' market the United States has ever known. Bootleggers took advantage of it not only by slaking the thirsts of the constitutionally deprived at outrageous prices, but by adulterating their beverages, diluting them as much as the market would allow, to increase profits even further. The less discerning the customer, the easier it was to alter his purchase, and many men and women were so desperate during Prohibition that they were not discerning at all. These were people who could not be troubled to make their own or could not afford to go to speakeasies or could not wait to get there before having a few gulps. These were people who would drink anything, anytime, anywhere. These were people whose indiscriminate cravings were the greatest intoxicant of all to unscrupulous bootleggers. A rule of thumb for the latter: one bottle of good whiskey could be "cut" into five bottles of bad.

Most often, the cutting was done in the middle of the night, in plants that were set up in warehouses or storage facilities that looked deserted, and therefore not suspicious, by day. The tools of the cutter's trade were water, flavorings, and alcohol. The water increased the quantities of beverage; the flavorings restored the diluted mixture to something approximating its original taste; and the alcohol replaced the lost pizzazz. Joe Kennedy's scotch, for example, after being watered, might be restored with caramel, prune juice, or creosote, and then spiked back up again with industrial alcohol.

But that was the problem. Actually, it was the crisis. Many were the bootleggers, driven almost as much by a lack of respect for their customers as by greed, who turned to alcohol in grossly unsafe forms, and with no inspection or regulation procedures to check them, their consciences, highly defective mechanisms to begin with, were their only guides. The new pizzazz was, therefore, greater than the old, and in some cases so much greater that it turned out to be lethal.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Burns, Eric. *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Eric Burns, *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004), 217–218.

Shortened citation:

Burns, *The Spirits of America*, 217–218.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.37

A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837

Paul E. Johnson

SELECTION	passe
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Excerpt

4 Impasse

N EITHER spontaneous controls nor a faction-ridden village government could tame the workingmen and drifters who filled Rochester in the 1820s. In their own streets and neighborhoods, dissolute men did what they pleased, and anxious merchants and masters had no means of stopping them. Some rich men sensed that they had the power to coerce workmen into being good. But most were uncomfortable with power, and tried to quiet society through a moral authority that had lost its basis in everyday experience. Arguments between advocates of power and advocates of authority surfaced periodically among the village trustees. The argument widened into an open fight in 1828, as Rochester's weakened elite tried new ways of fighting social evil.

In 1828, worried gentlemen formed the Rochester Society for the Promotion of Temperance, and affiliated with a national movement led by Lyman Beecher of Boston. These men proposed to end drunkenness through persuasion, example, and the weight of their names. Every old family and every church submerged their differences and contributed leaders to the society. Colonel Rochester himself, along with his son-inlaw Jonothan Child, represented the Rochester clan and the Episcopal Church. They were joined by their old enemies Matthew Brown and Levi Ward, and by Ward's son-in-law Moses Chapin. The Presbyterian, Baptist, and Methodist ministers were among the founders. So, temporarily, was Father McNamara of the Catholic chapel.' The Observer scanned the names and concluded that "'when we see that they are the most respectable, wealthy, moral, and influential individuals in society, we feel confident that this reformation will not cease but with the extermination of intemperance from our land."

The temperance reformers were wealthy men, and they possessed enormous power. But they preferred to translate power into authority, and to reform lesser men by persuasion rather than by force. Lyman Beecher, whose Six Sermons on Intemperance guided the movement from its beginning, defined the goal as "THE BANISHMENT OF ARDENT SPIRITS FROM THE LIST OF LAWFUL ARTICLES OF COMMERCE BY A CORRECT AND EFFICIENT PUBLIC SENTIMENT..." by social pressure and an aroused public opinion.' The society aimed its appeals at wealthy men, for these had always set standards for others. Members of the society gave up even the most moderate use of liquor. They would not buy it, drink it, sell it, manufacture it, or provide it for their guests or employees, and they would use all their influence to encourage others to do the same.* The organization and its methods were based on the touching faith that poor men would drink only "so long as the traffic in liquor is regarded as lawful, and is patronized by men of reputation and moral worth..."* Temperance men did not want to outlaw liquor or to run drunkards and grogsellers out of town. They wanted only to make men ashamed to drink. Reform would come quietly and voluntarily, and it would come from the top down.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Paul E. *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (Hill and Wang, 1978), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.38

American Reformers, 1815-1860

Ronald G. Walters

SELECTION	AMERICAN REFORMERS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 220–221 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

Christian anarchists, labor reformers, and African Americans who saw into the heart of injustice and inequality—posed a deep threat to the emerging social, political, and economic order. The chief effect of other crusades—notably temperance, phrenology, and asylumor school-building—was to encourage people to adjust to, rather than resist, the brave new world of the nineteenth century. Most antebellum reformers were, at heart, trying to adapt old and respectable verities, plus a few new ones, to an age of cities, steam power, rowdy politics, and get-rich-quick schemes. To their way of thinking, that did sumed, would ensure that God's (or Nature's) plan would continue to unfold. For them, reform explained what was wrong with individuals and the nation, what might go wrong in the future, and how to avoid it without sacrificing the historic mission of Americans to increase and be prosperous. It is one of the minor tragedies of antebellum reform that few noin the 1850s. By the 1870s they were all but gone. Perhaps the analogy is wrong. Eras do not die like living creatures; they merge and blend

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Ronald G. Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 220–221.

Shortened citation:

Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860*, 220–221.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.39

The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston

Albert J. von Frank

SELECTION	events that converted them. And of course many were converted in
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Free Northern blacks, for their part, were also concerned with "the little lower layer," with matters that did not come and go — not so much with the power of Virginia slaveholders (a point of white fascination), but already with the next evolutionary step, emerging from the quasislavery of their own Northern identity. The progressive separation of black and white abolitionists — or the increasing independence of the former over the decade of the 1850s — is marked by a shift in their attention from the slave's plight to their own, by coming to focus on the continuities between black slavery and white prejudice. One clear indication of this advancing recognition may be seen in the call issued by William J. Wilson of New York on May 10, 1855, for a "National Convention of Colored Americans":

Years of well-intended effort have been expended for the especial freedom of the slave, while the elevation of the free colored man as an inseparable priority to the same, has been entirely overlooked. But to every true friend of freedom it must now be too obvious, that the whole process of operation against the huge and diabolical system of oppression and wrong, has been shorn of more than half its strength and efficacy, because of this neglect of the interests of the Free People of Color — interests so vital that we dare not longer permit them to remain in a state of neglect. If nothing else, then, these years of experifree man is inseparable from, and lies at the very threshold of the great work of the slave's restoration to freedom, and equally essential to the highest well-being of our own common country.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Von Frank, Albert J. *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Albert J. von Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston* (Harvard University Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.40

The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914

George M. Fredrickson

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 28–29 · Supplied edition: Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

The real issue, however, was not the success or failure of colonization but its basic morality. The abolitionists of the 1830s charged that the colonizationist doctrine of ineradicable prejudice was un-Christian. To rule out the possibility of a racially egalitarian society was, to their way of thinking, a willful and perverse denial of both the Gospel and the Declaration of Independence. The controversy that then erupted in Northern reform circles was not, as is sometimes supposed, a dispute over the inherent capabilities of the Negro; as we have seen, prominent advocates of colonization often shared, in theory at least, the abolitionist belief that American Negro deficiencies were the result of a repressive environment. Rather it was a debate on the separate issue of whether white Americans could be expected to overcome their antipathy to blacks and achieve interracial equality and brotherhood. As "practical" conservatives with a powerful sense of the limitations of reform, the leading colonizationists regarded prejudice as too deeply rooted to be eliminated. The abolitionists, on the other hand, were idealistic Christian reformers who believed that racial antipathy, like other "sinful" human dispositions, could be overcome.

For those who fully subscribed to Garrison's radical views, such a doctrine tended to be part of a generalized "perfectionist" or millenarian reformism. "My Bible assures me," Garrison wrote in

Thoughts on African Colonization, "that the day is coming when even the 'wolf shall dwell with the lamb, and the leopard shall lie down with the kid, and the wolf and the young lion and the fatling together'; and, if this be possible, 1 see no cause why those of the same species—God's rational creatures—fellow countrymen in truth, cannot dwell in harmony together." Garrison went on to affirm that "there is power enough in the religion of Jesus Christ to melt down the most stubborn prejudices, to overthrow the highest walls of partition, to break the strongest caste, to improve and elevate the most degraded, to unite in fellowship the most hostile, and to equalize and bless all its recipients."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fredrickson, George M. *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Footnote citation:

George M. Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914* (Wesleyan University Press, 1987), 28–29.

Shortened citation:

Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind*, 28–29.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.41

The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition

Gerda Lerner

SELECTION	THE GRIMKE SISTERS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 200–201 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

pected their full support. But women, too, were kept away from the cause by their own repressed status, Few women could brave the disapproval of their friends and neighbors in order to take a public stand and actively participate in community affairs. Weld looked on the woman's rights question entirely as something affecting a few outstanding women in leadership positions, but the Grimkés saw the need of mobilizing the vast, untapped reservoir of antislavery sentiment in women and harnessing it to the cause.

As if in support of his "Quaker" argument, Weld enlisted the aid of the Quaker Whittier, a man the sisters greatly respected. Whittier's letter to them linked the issues of war, human government, church and family government as matters that ought to be held "far aloof from the cause of abolition." He attacked Wright and Garrison for tying these causes to abolition. As for the rights of women, the sisters were asserting these rights by their current lectures. "Why then, let me ask, it is necessary for you to enter the lists as controversial writers in this question?:.. Is it not forgetting the great and dreadful wrongs of the slave in a selfish crusade against some paltry grievances of our own?" §7 Weld's next letter was written after he had read the first several of the Letters on the Equality of the Sexes. "Woman, in every particular shares equally with man rights and responsibilities," Weld stated, describing his views on women as "ultra." He believed that qualified women could and should make laws, administer justice, govern — even propose marriage!

Yet he deeply regretted that the sisters had started their articles. Writing of this sort was something any woman could do. But in their function as female antislavery speakers they were unique. He asked them to let others do "Brethren beloved in the Lord," Angelina began her reply, addressed jointly to Whittier and Weld, saying that she was writing for both herself and Sarah. She explained how they came to write the articles and insisted that they could see no harm in publishing their views on women in a paper which was not an abolition paper.** It was not these articles which aroused the public on the subject of woman's rights, it was the Pastoral Letter that did the damage. Angelina saw it as an attack on free speech. "This invasion of our rights was just such an attack upon us, as that made upon Abolitionists generally when they were told a few years ago that they had no right to discuss the subject of Slavery." At that time abolitionists did not ignore the attack. "The time to assert a right is the time when that right is denied. "We must establish this right for if we do not, it will be impossible for us to go on with the work of Emancipation." Could they not see that the clergy, in attacking their right to lecture, were trying to prevent people from hearing what they had to say? "If we surrender the right to speak to the public this year, we must surrender the right to petition the next year and the right to write the year after and so on, What then can woman do for the slave when she is herself under the feet of man and shamed into silence?" As for the Quaker argument, Angelina pointed out that their feminism was as different from the Quaker view on women as their abolitionism was from the Quaker variety. Quakers regarded woman "as equal to men on the ground of spiritual gifts, not on the broad ground of humanity. Women may preach: this is a gift; but woman must not make the discipline by which she herself is to be governed." This insight reflected years of practical experience in "Women's Meeting." Neither of the sisters had ff...
ag lel iL _—" —F "wey 9 Bw gs

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lerner, Gerda. *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition*. Rev. and expanded ed. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Gerda Lerner, *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition* (University of North Carolina Press, 2004), 200–201.

Shortened citation:

Lerner, *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina*, 200–201.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.42

The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes

SELECTION	REVIVAL TRIUMPHANT
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 103–104 · Supplied edition: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Excerpt

Though the doctrine offered an escape from the dilemma of immediatism, it raised new problems of its own. The controversy shifted from the realities of policy and legislation to the wilderness of "the slavery displaced studies of the free Negro and his capacity for improvement. "The Bible argument" was interminable. Nothing and everything could be proved to the bewildered layman by properly unexpected interest. Weld wrote an official summary of the Lane rebels' argument, but that was only the beginning of a new pamphlet controversy. Notable theologians, North and South, wrote extensively on the doctrine for the religious journals and for the press, and new dignity was added thereby to the antislavery cause. More important still, while "the Bible argument" came to no possible conclusion, at least it did not produce dilemmas of doctrine. propaganda by agents expanded into triumphant revival. Since the Lane rebels had been dismissed from the seminary "and God thrust them out, full of philanthropy and zeal, to awaken a slumbering nathe hands of agents, doctrine became dogma; an unchanging imme-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Barnes, Gilbert Hobbs. *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*. New York: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Footnote citation:

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844* (D. Appleton-Century, 1933), 103–104.

Shortened citation:

Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*, 103–104.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.43

All on Fire: William Lloyd Garrison and the Abolition of Slavery

Henry Mayer

SELECTION	y Soul Was on Fire Then
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 65–66 · Supplied edition: St. Martin's Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Having referred to the sacred phrases of the Declaration of Indepen¬ dence, Garrison drove his point home by asking his listeners to imagine the language that American slaves would use in justifying to the world a rebel¬ lion of their own. In the cadences of Jefferson's declaration, Garrison then catalogued a long course of usurpation and tyranny: "They have invaded our territories.... They have wedged us into the holds of their 'floating hells.'... They have sold us in their market-places like cattle... driven us in large droves from State to State, beneath a burning sky.... They have lacerated our bodies with whips.... They would destroy our souls...."

Not only did the slaves possess inherent rights, Garrison insisted; the states had a democratic right to voice the concerns of the nonslaveholding majority in the counsels of the nation. We have "a common interest... as members of one great family... to demand a gradual abolition of slavery," he said. Even if one were to disregard the Golden Rule and "the common dictates of humanity," Garrison reasoned, the free states had a stake in the matter "because by [slavery's] continuance, they participate in the guilt thereof, and are threatened with ultimate destruction."

There were also sectional political concerns. New England Federalists had complained for years about the Southern weight in national politics, owing to the extra representation granted to slaveholders by the three-fifths clause in the U.S. Constitution, but Garrison gave the congregation a fresh lesson in political arithmetic. Though the free states had a population twice as large as the slave states, they wielded only twenty-two percent more of the elec¬ toral vote and had to suffer the "anti-republican" absurdity of slaveholders reducing men to property while claiming that they should be counted as constituents. The "price of Union," Garrison said bluntly, was too high if it silenced the voice of an "overwhelming majority" and required tacit approval of a soul-destroying evil.

Yet the abolition of slavery had to be a moral endeavor before it could be a political one. Only an aroused public conscience could persuade legis¬ lators to withdraw protection from slavery, the speaker contended, and he admonished the evangelically minded congregation that Christians could not, in fairness, strive to liberate other lands from darkness and superstition, yet make no impression upon the laws at home. Agitation would inevitably be noisy and disruptive, he acknowledged, but slavery could not be abolished without a collision "full of sharp asperities and bitterness" that would con¬ front "the worst passions of human nature." The conflict, furthermore, would have to begin in their own communities, for "the prejudices of the north are stronger than those of the south; they bristle, like so many bayonets, around the slaves...." substitution. "Suppose that... the slaves should suddenly become white," he bade the silent hall.

"Would you shut your eyes upon their sufferings and calmly talk of con¬ stitutional limitations?

"No," he roared, "your voice would peal in the ears of the taskmasters like deep thunder." Boston would rock more violently than it had during the revolt against Great Britain, the pulpits would shake with holy zeal, and the charge that such white slaves are "degraded" or "inferior," and therefore undeserving of freedom, would be dismissed outright.

This startling confrontation with racial bias brought Garrison to his final thesis: the equal citizenship of black and white. He condemned as a "pitiful subterfuge" the common argument that slavery had incapacitated black people for freedom and would thus make their liberation a curse rather than a blessing. He also condemned the racist corollary, advanced most promi¬ nently by Thomas Jefferson in Notes on the State of Virginia, that differences of color, as well

as capacity, loomed as powerful obstacles to emancipation and an egalitarian society. Look at the achievements of Carthage in ancient days and Haiti today (and perhaps the infant colony at Liberia, Garrison said, in his only, passing reference to the colonization scheme) to see what free black citizens might accomplish. If slavery had reduced black men and women to "a level with the brutes, is it a valid argument to say that therefore they must remain brutes?" Freedom and education would be the proper remedies to "elevate them to a proper rank in the scale of being," he said, though it would be "a wild vision" to think that such could happen overnight. Emancipation would have to come gradually, but it had to begin at once. "Our choice is simply between virtuous and quiet freemen and desperate and degraded slaves," he said, and asked, "Whose society is the more prefer¬ able?"

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Mayer, Henry. *All on Fire: William Lloyd Garrison and the Abolition of Slavery*. New York: St. Martin's Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Henry Mayer, *All on Fire: William Lloyd Garrison and the Abolition of Slavery* (St. Martin's Press, 1998), 65–66.

Shortened citation:

Mayer, *All on Fire*, 65–66.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.44

Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery

James Brewer Stewart

SELECTION	J HOLY WARRIORS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 42–43 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

By far the most alarming was the ominous note of black militancy on which the new decade opened. In Boston in 1829, an ex-slave from North Carolina, David Walker, published the first edition of his famous Appeal A landmark in black protest literature, Walker's Appeal- condemned colonization as a white supremacist hoax, excoriated mem- "that one good black man can put to death six white men." Whites had never hesitated to kill blacks, he advised, so "if you commence... do not trifle, for they will not trifle with you." Other events, even more shocking, were to follow. In after, Southampton County, Virginia, erupted in the bloody Nat Turner insurrection, the largest slave revolt in antebellum America. Still another massive slave rebellion broke out in British Jamaica in 1831. Coinciding with these racial traumas was the Nullification Crisis of 1831-32, a confrontapolicy and by the deeper fear that the federal government might someday abolish slavery. Intent on preserving state sovereignty and hence slavery, South Carolina politicians led by John C. Calhoun temporarily defied national authority, threatened secession, and risked occupation by federal troops.

As these frightening events unfolded, young evangelicals cast aside their self-doubt. Unfocused discontent gave way to soul-wrenching commitments to eradicating the sin of slavery. The combined actions of Nat Turner, the South Carolina "Nullifiers," and David Walker suggested with dramatic force that slavery was the fundamental cause of society's degraded state. As Theodore D. Weld observed, the abolitionist cause "not only overshadows all others, but step-by-step solutions advocated by their parents suddenly appeared to invite only God's retribution. Like Garrison, Arthur Tappan, and many others, James G. Birney sealed his commitment to immediate abolition by decrying colonization. The Colonization Society, Birney charged, acted as "an opiate to the consciences" of those who would otherwise "feel deeply and keenly the sin of slavery." In one sense, these sudden espousals of immediate abolition can be understood as a strategic innovation developed because of the manifest failures of gradualism. Slaveholders had certainly shown no sympathy to moderate schemes. In England, too, where immediatism was also gaining followers, the general public had remained unmoved by gradualist proposals.

Demands for "immediate, unconditional, uncompensated emancipation" thus appealed to young American idealists—at least the slogan was free of moral qualifications. Indeed, in 1831 the British government, responding to immediatist demands, enacted a massive program of gradual, compensated emancipation in the West Indies. But, even more important, by dedicating themselves to immediatism, the young reformers performed

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stewart, James Brewer. *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

James Brewer Stewart, *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 42–43.

Shortened citation:

Stewart, *Holy Warriors*, 42–43.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.45

The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement

Julie Roy Jeffrey

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

Y e

Some members of the Society of Friends, whose historical and religious experiences differed dramatically from those of evangelical Protestants, also found Garrison's analysis convincing. The Quakers had adopted a forceful stand against slavery during the eighteenth century, refusing slaveholders membership, taking the lead in early abolitionist organizations like the Pennsylvania Abolition Society, and fostering the education of free blacks. Friends were no longer in the forefront of antislavery by the time Garrison announced his program of immediate emancipation. The Pennsylvania Abolition Society, for example, supported gradual change through political channels and focused more on assisting free blacks than on freeing slaves in the South. But the Quaker belief in the Inner Light that revealed what had to be done in this life to each salvation in the next could prompt er became clear only o ver time, Ae emphasis ¢ on ee one's d duty i in the world did not differ so much from the compulsion that the climactic event of an ee saree aiytteseneepeasterennaeetemen LL evangelical conversion might unleash.!

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jeffrey, Julie Roy. *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Julie Roy Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.46

Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform

Len Gougeon

SELECTION	rtue's Hero
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 4–5 · Supplied edition: University of Georgia Press, 1990.

Excerpt

Ornately for Higginson and his cohorts—reformers like Wendell Phillips, William Lloyd Garrison II, and William J. Potter—a lack of biographical resources limited their arguments largely to Emerson's activities in the 1850s, where the record was reasonably well established. This, unfortu¬ nately, had the effect of suggesting to some that Emerson was indeed a reluctant latecomer to the cause, and so the debate was inconclusive and continues to this day. An understanding, if not a resolution, of the development of this his¬ torical dichotomy is imperative to an accurate understanding of Emer¬ son's relationship to the abolition movement. Even an "inner life" such as Stephen Whicher's, in order to be valid, must be predicated largely upon the evidence provided by an outer life. This would include not only what Emerson actually said and wrote on the subject of aboli¬ tion but also the activities he undertook in the name of this reform.

However, as the present study will show, some of the most deep-seated scholarly commonplaces regarding Emerson's relationship to the impor¬ tant reforms of his day are based upon assumptions that have obtained credibility almost solely on the basis of historical reiteration rather than historical fact. Emerson's first major biographer and commentator, George Willis Cooke, in his Ralph Waldo Emerson: His Life, Writings, and Philosophy (1881) devotes a full chapter to the antislavery movement and main¬ tains that "the real spirit and purpose of the man, [Emerson] are not likely to be understood without a knowledge of his relations to this agi¬ tation."2 Cooke highlights the growth of Emerson's involvement in the antislavery cause beginning in 1831-32 when he allowed Samuel May and Arnold Buffum to deliver antislavery addresses from his pulpit in the Second Church in Boston. This was at a time "when all the pul¬ pits were silent on the subject of slavery."3 In his discussion Cooke also quotes extensively from Emerson's famous August 1844 address, "Emancipation in the British West Indies," and other major speeches such as "American Slavery" (1855), "The Assault upon Mr.

Sumner" (1856), and "John Brown" (1859), which were delivered throughout the 1850s. Overall, Cooke creates the impression of a very concerned and active Emerson who strongly supported abolitionism, and who, because he "had faith in the triumph of freedom and love, gave such aid as he could and all his sympathies, to those seeking the emancipation of the poor and oppressed."4

Cooke's work was followed in 1882 by Moncure Conway's Emerson at Home and Abroad. Conway, a former slave owner who became an abolitionist, was a personal friend of Emerson in his later years. His study devotes an entire chapter to an exposition of Emerson's anti¬ slavery activities. Indeed, his enthusiasm in depicting Emerson as an active reformer led him at times to make somewhat misleading state¬ ments. Among these, for example, are the assertions that "Emerson was the first American scholar to cast a dart at slavery,"5 and that he was battling slavery "six years before even [William Ellery] Channing had committed himself to that side."6 Despite such deficiencies, how¬ ever, Conway does succeed in calling attention to some of Emerson's major abolition activities and furthers the idea suggested by Cooke of an early and constant commitment on Emerson's part to the principles of abolition.

Another important biographical study of Emerson was published in 1882 by a British writer, Alexander Ireland. Emerson had met Ireland on his first visit to England in 1833, and he maintained a cordial corre¬ spondence and friendship with him for the rest of his life. Ireland had first published In Memoriam. Ralph Waldo Emerson: Recollections of His

Visits to England in 1833, 1847-8, 1872-3 and Extracts from Unpublished Letters in London early in 1882. Encouraged by the swift sale of the book, he soon added a biographical sketch and, later in 1882, published Ralph Waldo Emerson: His Life, Genius, and Writings, A Biographical Sketch, to Which Are Added Personal Recollections of His Visits to England, Extracts from Unpublished Letters, and Miscellaneous Characteristic Records.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gougeon, Len. *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform*. Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Len Gougeon, *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform* (University of Georgia Press, 1990), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Gougeon, *Virtue's Hero*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.47

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	ELEVEN: The Abolitionist International
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 353–354 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

Political abolitionists such as Elizur Wright backed land reform and the demands of labor, paving the way for the rise of free soilism. Wright's encounter with the British working poor and his own economic straits made him sympathetic to the condition of labor. As the editor of the Chronotype and later the Commonwealth in Boston, Wright supported abolition, labor, and women's rights. Smith, Goodell, and Wright formed the Liberty League in 1847, which combined abolition with economic and labor reform. In Massachusetts, Wright, with other Libertyites and Free Soilers, formed viable alliances with labor at the local and state levels, and the NRA endorsed Liberty Party candidates. Even Lewis Tappan admonished George Alexander of the British and Foreign ASS that the "rich would be better off if half or two-thirds of their wealth were distributed among their poor fellow men." He recommended "sub-divisions of landed property" and cultivation of small farms to achieve more "equality in property."

In New York Horace Greeley, the editor of the New York Tribune, combined antislavery with labor reform, becoming a leading proponent of land redistribution and utopian socialism. Early on, Greeley had called for the abolition of slavery in all its forms and, to the ire of abolitionists, advocated the settling of blacks in separate townships. Having the largest circulation in the nation, the Tribune became a mainstream outlet for northern reformism, forging connections with labor and partisan politics. Greeley was an advocate of what one might call today social democracy. He criticized untrammeled competition and individualism, which reduced workers to "abject want." The anti-rent rebellion in New York along with the NRA brought together land reformers like Evans and Greeley, an undertaking that culminated in the Republican Party's homestead platform. Land reformers and abolitionists also supported the homestead exemption for debtors. During Reconstruction, Greeley renounced his pro-labor, antislavery politics, becoming the presidential candidate of Liberal Republicans and Democrats, that is, of laissez-faire principles and white supremacy. Before the war, though, he popularized antislavery and labor reform. By the end of the 1840s workingmen's conventions and labor reform associations made opposition to the Mexican War and the extension of slavery one of labor's goals.[23]

Rejecting electoral politics, Garrisonians were more interested in utopian communities, most founded in the wake of the Panic of 1837 and inspired by early socialist thinkers such as Owen, Fourier, and Saint-Simon. The connection between abolition and communitarianism went back to the days of Frances Wright and Robert Dale Owen, freethinkers who supported abolition, workingmen's rights, and women's equality. The antebellum communitarian movement inspired by Fourierism complemented abolitionists' "come outer" philosophy of rejecting corrupt institutions, the state and church, as well as those built on precedents set by separatist religious communities such as the Shakers and Rappites. Garrison's conservative critics accused him of harboring radical "no government" as well as "no property" theories. In England, Collins reported that Garrison was "considered of the Owen school." In an editorial on "social reorganization" sympathetically evoking Owen and Fourier, Garrison commended the idea of cooperative associations personifi ed in the abolitionist Northampton Association for Education and Industry led by his brotherin-law George Benson, William Adam, David Mack, and E. D. Hudson. He also lauded his fellow nonresistant Adin Ballou's Hopedale community, which, like Northampton, was founded in 1842, the transcendentalist community at George Ripley's Brook Farm, and Collins's journal the Communitist, which advocated communal ownership of property.

Author's Notes

22. Jonathan H. Earle, Jacksonian Antislavery and the Politics of Free Soil, 1824–1854 (Chapel Hill, 2004), chap. 1; Foner and Shapiro, eds., Northern Labor and Antislavery, 7–10, 91–98; James L. Huston, "Abolitionists, Political Economists, and Capitalism," JER 20 (2000): 487–521; The Democracy of Christianity..., vol. 1 (New York, 1849); Goodman, Of One Blood, chap. 7; Jonathan Glickstein, "The Specter of White Chattelization: William Goodell's Abolitionist Thought," in Steven Mintz and John Stauffer, eds., The Problem of Evil: Slavery, Freedom, and the Ambiguities of American Reform (Amherst, Mass., 2007), 174–82; Sean Wilentz, Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850 (New York, 1984), 335–43; Jeffrey J. Pilz, The Life, Work and Times of George Henry Evans, Newspaperman, Activist and Reformer 1829–1849 (New York, 2001); TL, October 1, 1847; February 16, 1849; Foner, Politics and Ideology in the Age of the Civil War, 69–73, 150–52; Stauffer, The Black Hearts of Men, 136–39; Henry George to Sarah Miffl in Gay, November 4, November 11, 1880, Sydney Howard Gay Papers, CU.

23. Foner and Shapiro, eds., Northern Labor and Antislavery, 19–22, 127–30; Abel and Klingberg, eds., A Side-Light on Anglo-American Relations, 219–20; Lawrence B. Goodheart, Abolitionist, Actuary, Atheist: Elizur Wright and the Reform Impulse (Kent, Ohio, 1990), chap. 9; Bruce Laurie, Beyond Garrison: Antislavery and Social Reform (Cambridge, Eng., 2005), 67–71; Adam Tuchinsky, Horace Greeley's New-York Tribune:

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition* (Yale University Press, 2016), 353–354.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 353–354.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.48

The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority

Merton L. Dillon

SELECTION	Goading the Monster
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 77–78 · Supplied edition: DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Excerpt

Abolitionists based their arguments on familiar religious teachings and on American principles as embodied in the Declaration of Independence; yet despite their association with those revered ideals, no special powers of discernment were needed to recognize them as disturbers of the existing the acceptance of Blacks as equals, they appeared to threaten the economic well-being of poorer Whites and to shake the foundations upon which the status and selfesteem of countless Americans were based. In working for abolition, they pledged themselves to the destruction of the plantation South and even of American society and government as it was then constituted. It would indeed have been gious and political principles held by most Americans that it found few open defenders outside the South. Hence, part of the abolitionist argument gained general acceptance slavery was wrong. Indeed, if everyone who agreed in theory with that statement had joined the organized antislavery movement, it could easily have overwhelmed the opposition. But it was one thing to condemn slavery as an evil; it was quite another to agree that slavery must be done away with at once. Such a policy, it was thought, would great wrath fell upon them.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dillon, Merton L. *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority*. DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Merton L. Dillon, *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974), 77–78.

Shortened citation:

Dillon, *The Abolitionists*, 77–78.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.49

The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic

Richard S. Newman

SELECTION	had to maintain their position as national protest leaders
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

Ca. PCTIAps Ue PESt OF UIE TattOT WOU SOUOTT CALCTE Up. VN EIR EE ND had to maintain their position as national protest leaders.5* White Lady, happy, Proud and Free, Lend awhile, thine ear to me; Let the Negro Mother's Wail Turn Thy Pale cheek yet more pale. —"A Negro Mother's Appeal," quoted in the Abolitionist, 1833 WHITE ACTIVISTS such as Elizabeth Hevrich of Britain and William Lloyd Garrison put a name on the strategy of ending slavery at once: "Immediatism." Yet precisely because immediatism symbolized much more than a timetable of reform, black activists played a crucial role in the coming of a new abolitionist era during the 1830s.

The Age of Immediatism signaled a new urgency in the fight against slavery, a ferocious and angry declaration that Americans had to confront the moral and emotional horrors of bondage (not downplay its significance or gradually export the problem overseas).5° Slavery had to be attacked, white as well as black reformers now argued, by appealing directly to the American conscience, by challenging Americans to see the hypocrisy of holding slaves in the land of the free, by turning abolitionism itself into a moral crusade among the masses. "Slavery is a crime? Garrison proclaimed in 1833, and abolitionists "cannot surrender this great fundamental principle." "Anything which serves as a substitute for the immediate and absolute abolition of slavery; his organization, the New England Anti-Slavery Society (NEASS) asserted, referring particularly to colonization, "is delusive, cruel, and dangerous."° Early black activists' strategy of moral confrontation clearly influenced the new immediatist abolition societies. As Garrison himself noted, black activists helped convince him and many of his contemporaries to embrace their angry tradition of reform, eschewing the still-deferential tactics of both gradual abolitionists and colonizationists.

Garrison spoke of incorporating blacks' "enthusiasm" and "authentic" outrage even before he had started the NEASs in 1832. Black tacticians' use of literary techniques — especially pamphleteering —to rouse sympathy and stir emotions segued smoothly into the early activities of the New England Anti-Slavery Society and the American Anti-Slavery Society. "Appeals," "Narratives." and documentary "Testimony" poured out of the abolitionist press, diffusing "slavery's truth" far and wide: the separation of families by masters, the flogging of men and women for minor offenses, the lie given America's "Declaration MDA. GF OL Ton denensnen dt Lp. ee A host of black activists from Philadelphia, Boston, New York, Providence, and other areas joined the new antislavery societies. But the black presence went deeper still. Many white essayists including Lydia Maria Child, David Lee Child, and Amos Phelps simply appended black "testimony" to their harsh essays condemning bondage. "The apologists of Southern slavery are accustomed to brand every picture of slavery... as exaggeration or calumny? wrote Lydia Maria Child. "The facts stated in these sheets" she continued, "are capable of satisfactory and legal proof."

Those who doubted her stories' authenticity need only consult the "office of the Massachusetts Anti-Slavery Society" for verification and documentation. Black narratives, according to another paper, publicized as nothing else could "such an array of horrible facts... such glaring scenes of damning iniquity as would astound the philanthropic beholder, crimson his cheek with the tear of blood and make the very hairs on his head stand on end." This "living commentary" literally flowed "from the victims of slavery" who now vented their anger through "authentic" narratives. "The voice of the oppressed [will be] heard!!"6?

In the 1830s and 1840s Massachusetts abolitionists consistently underwrote "Narratives" of slaves, including the life stories of James Barbadoes, Solomon Northup, Frederick Douglass, and William Wells Brown. "This simple narrative

of a native African? NEASS reprints of Olaudah Equiano's famous tract asserted in the mid-1830s, "will be found to contain much instructive matter... on liberty and slavery." It is "recommended to all the friends of the black man, who can learn... from his own ARTFUL pen" about black "intelligence" and the "brutality" of slavery.°? At Garrison's beloved Liberator, letters from black authors filled the columns. In the paper's first year, the Liberator published nearly two hundred articles, approximately 20 percent of which came from black writers —a phenomenal number for the time, outdistancing nearly a decade's worth of blacks' letters in the Genius of Universal Emancipation from 1821 through 1831. So striking was the black voice in modern abolitionist documents that one antiabolitionist declared that Garrison was nothing but a white Negro.

Although blacks expressed "confidence" in new reformers? tactics, many African American activists claimed to be hearing nothing new except that it came from a white mouth. "We have read your interesting and, TO Us, invaluable paper," Baltimore activist William Watkins wrote in the Liberator an farts ©?

_ Dy |. OOK? rd. FT shaw eras ar 7

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Newman, Richard S. *The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Richard S. Newman, *The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Newman, *The Transformation of American Abolitionism*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.50

American Reformers, 1815-1860

Ronald G. Walters

SELECTION	AMERICAN REFORMERS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 78–79 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

Their answer—an unsuccessful one, as it turned out—was to try to suppress the debate over slavery.

Before 1831 opposition to slavery had taken several forms. From the outset blacks made their feelings clear by flight from bondage, by daycentury—and especially by the time of the Revolution—increasing numbers of whites were preaching abolition, inspired by religion, Enlightenment humanitarianism, and their own republican and egalitarian rhetoric. Most Northern states ended slavery before 1800, while simultaneously limiting the rights of free blacks. Abolition sentiment was on the wane by then and the institution of slavery was, if anything, becoming more strongly entrenched in the lower South, as the newly invented cotton gin and population growth pushed cotton production differed strikingly from the caustic brand Garrison and his colleagues promoted after 1830. It was concentrated in the upper South, was conciliatory to the master, and had little sympathy for blacks. Above all, there was no particular urgency to it. Prior to 1831 most white critics of slavery assumed that manumission would be gradual and ter typified such an approach than the American Colonization Society, founded in 1816. Its mission was to send ex-bondsmen out of the porters included slaveholders, prominent politicians, and distinguished men of the sort who later shunned abolitionism. Their motives were varied and conflicted. Some genuinely hated slavery but believed the races could never coexist without it. Their solution was to expel black people. Other colonizationists were proslavery and merely wanted to dispose of the small free black population of the South and to eliminate bondsmen who might become a burden on their owners or sociit, the Colonization Society nevertheless profited from this ability to it discharged some white anxieties about slavery and race, and otherwise did well in the 1820s.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Ronald G. Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 78–79.

Shortened citation:

Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860*, 78–79.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.51

Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life

Stanley M. Elkins

SELECTION	hapter 4. The Transcendentalist as Abolitionist
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 1959.

Excerpt

1838 and 1839, in which there was relatively little reform activity, the humanitarian projects burst forth once more in the early forties in greater profusion and with greater intensity than ever.

By the logo's many of the Transcendentalists were themselves in effect becoming abolitionists. To a certain extent they had been introduced to antislavery by their elder mentor, William Ellery Channing. They had shared at first Channing's repugnance to the more aggressive Garrisonian type of abolitionism, but as time went on they moved irresistibly toward more and more extreme positions. And as they did so, it is remarkable to note how their approach to slavery followed the same pattern as their approach to everything else.

We see once more their unwillingness to think in institutional terms. Theodore Parker, for instance, who had as wide an audience as any of the group, would not really think of slavery as an institution. Parker had read more widely in that subject than any man of his time; he knew all about slavery in Latin America and about the great variations which it had assumed in the ancient world; there is little that we now know on the law of slavery in this country and elsewhere that Theodore Parker could not have written a century ago. But although Parker used this information again and again in his attacks on slavery, as may be seen in his numerous papers and lectures on that subject, he never stopped to analyze the way these variations may have pivoted upon radically differing institutional arrangements. Nor did he ever give serious thought to specific improvements in the slave's condition such roles once carried in the community had been downgraded. Thus the young man of talent, learning, and sensibility with ties to an earlier era—either of family or simply of local tradition—was just not attracted to those careers in the way he might once have been (in the career of Henry Adams, at a later period in our history, we have the most poignant symbol of this). In this sense such a group as the Transcendentalists could quite properly be called a "displaced elite." The latest, best, and most precise version of the argument is David Donald's "Toward a Reconsideration of Abolitionists," in Lincoln Reconsidered: Essays on the Civil War Era (New York: Knopf, 1956), pp. 19-36.

Worlds of Theodore Parser (Boston: American Unitarian Association, I9°7-I3), [V], The Slave Power. by concentrating on specific features of the institution of American slavery. He was fully aware, for example, that marriage was sacred and inviolate in most other slave cultures, and although he attacked the American system on this basis, among others, he never thought of such a feature as a specific object of reform and of focusing his energies upon that. He used it instead as a justification for full emancipation; he used his learning in the role of moral agitator, not of intellectual.

Not only did these men fail to analyze slavery itself as an institution, but they failed equally to consider and exploit institutional means for subverting it. The primary choice as it appeared to most of them was simply, "Shall I oppose it, or shall I ignore it?" If the former, their action consisted principally in speaking out in public against it. Their relationship with abolition societies was never anything but equivocal. Neither Emerson nor Thoreau ever joined any of them; William Henry Channing and Frederic Hedge in the thirties joined a short-lived organization which had been formed to counter not only slavery but also Garrisonian abolition; James Freeman Clarke often attended meetings of the Anti-Slavery Society and made speeches there, but he was little concerned with the matter of nominal membership. Theodore Parker was of course his own one-man society. They gave little thought to the use of existing institutions—of the potentialities, say, of the national church organizations—which was certainly no accident, for they

had little regard for their own Unitarian church

("corpse-cold") as an institution dedicated to moral regeneration: "this icehouse of Unitarianism," Emerson had called it, "all external." Their pulpits were in effect platforms for personal agitation. Organization was distrusted more or less for its own sake.

This unusual obtuseness to the possibility of piecemeal reform could readily be understood in a single-minded fanatic like Garrison, but Parker was a man of extraordinary talents and a wide breadth of knowledge and interests; it is such cases as his that impel one to examine the social and institutional conditions amid which moral and intellectual energy is expended. Parker had had fifteen years of experience in New England reform movements before he turned his attention to slavery, and he had good reason to know that major changes in social institutions are not brought about in a day. And yet in the case of slavery the only solution he ever recognized was full and immediate emancipation. See Commager, Parser, p. 201, on the delay in Parker's concern over slavery.

Journals, VI, 218.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Elkins, Stanley M. *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1959.

Footnote citation:

Stanley M. Elkins, *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life* (University of Chicago Press, 1959), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Elkins, *Slavery*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.52

The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston

Albert J. von Frank

SELECTION	rescue — should follow the Shadrach model, not the Jerry model, and
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Excerpt

vaguely settled feeling emerged that the rescue—if there was to be a rescue—should follow the Shadrach model, not the Jerry model, and that it should take place Saturday morning, while the trial was under way. Then a great crowd gathered outside would flow irresistibly into the courtroom and carry off the victim of the law.® Yet in fact nothing was decided. With the Faneuil Hall meeting just two hours off, the Committee could come to no definite decision about any course of action, and Higginson, no doubt disgusted, left— around 5:30—to meet Stowell at the train station. His feeling, as he recollected it, was that "something must be done; better a failure than to acquiesce tamely as before.""

Something was being done. However inefficient and chaotic the Committee proved to be when caught thus unprepared, individual members, acting with varying degrees of independence, kept up pressure on the slavehunters. At 5:00, Suttle and Brent were arrested at their hotel, the Revere House, on a charge of conspiring to kidnap. The complaint had been sworn out by Lewis Hayden, the most militant of Boston's black abolitionists, with the assistance of lawyer Seth Webb Jr., both Committee members. Bail of $10,000 was forthwith posted for the Virginians by Watson Freeman and Henry Hallett, the latter the slave commissioner son of Benjamin F. Hallett, the U.S. district attorney. Suttle and Brent were released, though for the duration of their stay in the city they remained under an intentionally conspicuous surveillance by black volunteers, directed by Hayden and the Vigilance Committee.® Having been authorized around noon to act for Burns, Dana moved to prepare a writ of personal replevin, a tactic that had been used without success in all the previous fugitive cases.

The purpose of the writ, as of the better-known writ of habeas corpus, was to gain a legal hearing to determine whether a given detainee was or was not lawfully held, though it was designed to be served on private individuals rather than on officers of the court. Thus in theory it would be more effective against a slaveholder sojourning in Massachusetts with a slave attendant than against a U.S. marshal holding a suspected fugitive on a warrant. Even in the latter case, however (and this, of course, was the point), a jury might find the warrant illegal or the detention unconscionable and so free the fugitive. It was the distinctive advantage of the writ of personal replevin that it secured a jury trial rather than a hearing before a judge, as would a writ of habeas corpus.

It was resorted to, in other words, in order to appeal from a narrow construction of the law to the wider latitudes of the social conscience, or more pertinently, perhaps, from the social conscience of the class of men who sat as judges to that of the class of men who labored with their hands. It had been a notoriously antidemocratic feature of the Fugitive Slave Law—troublesome even to Daniel Webster—that it made no provision for a trial by jury, even though, as the law's opponents never ceased to point out, the Constitution affirmed the right to such trial in all disputes involving assets of at least twenty dollars value.

Dana's strategy, like that of the opponents of the Fugitive Slave Law in general, was to champion trial by jury, on the premise that juries were less friendly to slavery and less subject to both legal precedent and political discipline than judges were.° Now obsolete, the writ de homine replegiando was anciently recognized in English common law, and while it had been adopted early into the statutes of Massachusetts, it had fallen into disuse during the Federalist period and was abolished in the 1836 revision of the state code. Alert to its potential usefulness, however, antislavery lawyers, led by Robert Rantoul, restored it in 1837 as part of a general personal liberty law, and it remained on the books thereafter. It stated: "If any person is imprisoned... unless it be in the custody of some public officer of the law,

by force of a lawful warrant...
he shall be entitled, as of right, to a writ of personal replevin."![9] The revived writ was first used in 1842 against Nathaniel Coolidge, the officer in charge of Boston's Leverett Street Jail, where George Latimer, a fugitive slave, was being held not by force of law, but at the request and by the authority of his supposed owner, James B. Gray, of Norfolk, Virginia. Judge Joseph Story had ordered Gray to detain Latimer while he, Gray, secured evidence of ownership from Virginia. When Samuel E. Sewall served a writ of replevin on Coolidge, the jailer simply ignored it. It took a writ of habeas corpus to get Coolidge before Chief Justice Lemuel Shaw to show cause why he had defied the writ of replevin. In this action, Shaw held that the overriding consideration was the effective cooperation of the state in the federally mandated return of "persons held to service and labor." No state or local process, in his view, could be allowed to interfere with or nullify the operation of the fugitive slave clause of the Constitution. Shaw agreed with the expressed belief of Judge Story in

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Von Frank, Albert J. *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Albert J. von Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston* (Harvard University Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.53

Black Abolitionists

Benjamin Quarles

SELECTION	Black abolitionists
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1969.

Excerpt

rreyace FREEDOM is and has always been America's root concern, a concern that found dramatic expression in the abolitionist movement. The most important and revolutionary reform in our country's past, it forced the American people to come to grips with an anomaly that would not down—the existence of slavery in a land of the free.

One of the distinctive themes of the American experience, slavery had been firmly established a century before the Declaration of Independence. Its supporters had come to believe that slavery was the normal relationship between black and white. Increasingly concentrated in the South after the Revolutionary War, they rallied to its defense, coming to resent bitterly the mounting Yankee attack. Hence, as nothing else, the abolitionist agitation intensified the cleavage between the North and the South, leading in turn to a resort to arms and the nineteenth century's biggest and most significant war. The seeds planted by the abolitionists carried a germinating force, furnishing the classic American example of the power of ideals in a social upheaval.

Who were these men and women who would not hold their peace about slavery? They did not fit into any particular mold, religious or secular. Embracing a contingent of transplanted Southerners, they comprised a cross-section of America, geographically and otherwise. It is hardly surprising, therefore, that the movement would have its Negro component. Indeed, the Negro could be numbered among the pioneers. The New Baptist Church in the Negro quarter of Boston on a snowy a Negro dentist in Philadelphia, furnished another historic site; it was here in December of the following year that a committee of the American Anti-Slavery Society, headed by William Lloyd Garrison, drew up the Declaration of Sentiments that quickly became the Magna Charta of the movement.

But the black abolitionist phalanx was not just another group of camp followers. The Negro was, in essence, abolition's "different drummer." To begin with, his was a special concern; he felt that the fight against slavery was the black man's fight. Not all Negroes were abolitionists; far from it. But their general attitude was not incorrectly sensed by the British reformer, John Scoble, after a first-hand observation: "The free people of color, with few exceptions, are true to their brethren in bonds," he wrote in 1853, "and are determined to remain by them whatever the cost." Although, as Scoble pointed out, the free Negroes felt a special kinship to the slave, their sense of concern was often rooted in a broad humanity:. "I am opposed to slavery, not because it enslaves the black man, but because it enslaves man," wrote Daniel A. Payne in 1839. And to John Mercer Langston the abolitionist movement was designed not only for the liberation of the slave but for "the preservation of the American Government, the preservation of American liberty itself."

Aside from his varied role as a participant, the black abolitionist constituted a symbol of the struggle. Many of the Negro leaders in the crusade were former slaves, men and women who brought to the platform an experience that in its way was as eloquent, however broken the English, as the oratory of Wendell Phillips. Moreover, it was the Negro membership in the newer abolitionist movement of the Garrison years that marked one of its greatest differences with earlier abolitionist effort, one in which the Negro was regarded as a recipient of good works rather than as an expounder of the faith. And finally an account of the rich role of the Negro participant in

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Quarles, Benjamin. *Black Abolitionists*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1969.

Footnote citation:

Benjamin Quarles, *Black Abolitionists* (Oxford University Press, 1969), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Quarles, *Black Abolitionists*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.54

Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom

David W. Blight

SELECTION	hapter 7: This Douglass!
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Simon & Schuster, 2018.

Excerpt

"From Massachusetts University, Mr. Garrison, president." Douglass quickly knew he had joined a religious movement, what many historians have come to call a campaign of "Bible politics"; and its spiritual father was William Lloyd Garrison. One of Garrison's long-term admirers, Thomas Wentworth Higginson, recollected that the founder of the Liberator always sounded "like a newly discovered chapter of Ezekiel." But Garrison eagerly made many enemies. One found his style so harsh that he compared him to "the pert loquacity of a blue-jay." Even one among his own flock declared that it was all but impossible "to swallow Garrison whole."

In the early 1840s, Douglass did swallow whole the cluster of ideas and strategies the prophetic Garrison had honed into rigid orthodoxy. To the doctrines of immediatism, moral suasion, anticlericalism, nonresistance (pacifism), and racial equality that Douglass had relished reading about in the Liberator, Garrison had now advanced perhaps his most controversial tenets of all: disunionism (urging abolitionists to withdraw from any complicity with the proslavery US Constitution); antipolitics (denunciation of political parties and of voting itself in a system so corrupted by slavery); and women's equality (demanding women's political and economic rights). These three doctrines did more than anything else to tear asunder by 1840 whatever unity remained in the American Anti-Slavery Society (AASS), the organization Garrison had done so much to build. Garrison took abolitionism into the realm of Christian anarchy, human moral perfectionism, and rejection of virtually all governmental authority. Many devoted abolitionists, especially African Americans, stayed with him; his charisma and devotion alone could carry a crowd a long way. But many others, particularly evangelicals who did not believe all churches worth condemning, and especially those who saw antislavery potential in the Constitution and who believed it foolhardy to think that slavery could ever be eradicated outside the American political system, openly split with Garrison and his brand of ideological purity.

By fall 1841, as Douglass joined a stable of loyal lecturers, Garrison expressed great confidence about the movement. "Our antislavery struggle is constantly increasing in vigor and potency," he wrote to an English friend, "and never were our spirits better or our blows more effective.... Our fall and winter campaign will be carried on with unwonted energy." Invitations to speak came to Garrison himself and to his troops from "all parts of the free states." He relished the attacks on his methods and arguments from outside and from within abolitionism. The coffers of the American Anti-Slavery Society had grown and made possible the hiring of Douglass as well as other speakers. "The many base attempts... to cripple my influence, and render me odious in the eyes of the people," Garrison claimed, "have only served to awaken sympathy... and to open a wide door for usefulness." Portraying himself as undergoing a Job-like onslaught, Garrison exploited his enemies' wrath, a tactic Douglass soon mastered himself: "Thus has the Lord taken the cunning in their own craftiness, and carried the counsels of the froward headlong."

But Garrison no longer spoke for the entire antislavery movement. By 1840 the American Anti-Slavery Society broke apart forever in a schism. In response to the near collapse of moral suasion as a guiding strategy, Garrison, if anything, took it to an even higher intensity. He argued that the whole of American society, especially the North, needed a "moral revolution" in values, a transformation from a nation of sin and infamy to the goal of human perfection. Garrison was a great organizer, an intrepid newspaper editor, and sometimes a magical platform speaker. But he could also demand absolutist doctrines of his followers, as in the biblical injunction he fondly employed: "Be ye perfect, even as your heavenly Father is perfect." Garrisonians increasingly gained a reputation for extreme radicalism, of being either dangerous or irrelevant cranks. Sometimes they earned such an image, even among other abolitionists, and sometimes it was merely the by-product of embittered factionalism.

Led by Arthur and Lewis Tappan, wealthy abolitionist merchants in New York, a growing cadre of more politically minded reformers came to believe that far more Americans could be reached by antislavery beliefs if immediatism, a radical temperament and the strategy that sought abolition of slavery without delay, did not appear so militant. Garrison outorganized the Tappanites at the 1840 annual convention of the American Anti-Slavery Society, managed adoption of many of his doctrines by narrow margins, and elected the radical feminist Abby Kelley to the executive committee by a tally of 557 to 451. The Tappans and many of their adherents especially opposed women's equality in reform movements; they bolted the older organization and formed the new American and Foreign Anti-Slavery Society, based in New York City and devoted especially to a broader political and legal movement against slavery. That group had also been deeply instrumental in forming the Liberty Party, the first antislavery political organization to gain genuine traction in America.

As Douglass found himself and his talents warmly embraced within the Garrisonian fold, he quickly discerned the ways of a swirling and contentious world of friends and enemies, devotees and apostates. For now, partly out of agreement, and partly because he knew where his bread was buttered, Douglass remained devoted to his mentor, who was thirteen years his senior and a man of prophetic qualities to the young romantic fugitive slave. Although only an upstart, Douglass joined up with the "old organization" men and their growing number of women activists, and he was more than eager to earn approval from his father figure, Garrison, by denouncing the heresies of the "new organization" men such as the Tappans, and the emerging political abolitionists in the Liberty Party.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Blight, David W. *Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2018.

Footnote citation:

David W. Blight, *Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom* (Simon & Schuster, 2018), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Blight, *Frederick Douglass*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.55

Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad

Eric Foner

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton & Company, 2015.

Excerpt

Most escapes could not have been successful without the support of black communities, free and slave, North and South. Long before there were organized networks to assist fugitives, individual slaves and free blacks offered hiding places and in other ways provided them with assistance in the South. In the North, black men and women whose names are lost to history offered aid to slaves seeking freedom: hotel employees informed slaves brought to New York City by their owners that they were legally free; stevedores assisted fugitives hidden on ships from southern ports; anonymous int roduc t ion: rethinki ng theun de rgrou ndrail roa d 19 individuals who encountered fugitives on the streets offered them aid. Free blacks were the main activists in the vigilance committees modeled on New York's that sprang up in Philadelphia, Boston, Syracuse, and other cities. The leadership of these groups, organized at the local level but in frequent communication with counterparts elsewhere, was generally interracial, but the committees were "to a considerable extent, and in some places entirely sustained by the colored people," the white abolitionist Samuel May Jr. noted.

At the time of the American Revolution, there had been few free blacks anywhere in the country. The growth of the free black population, North and South, in the first half of the nineteenth century proved crucial for the prospects of fugitive slaves. So did the rise of the abolitionist movement. Especially after the emergence of militant, interracial abolitionism in the early 1830s, sympathetic whites offered aid—material, legal, and monetary —to individual fugitives and to the black-dominated vigilance committees. The networks assisting fugitives offered a rare instance in antebellum America of interracial cooperation and a link between the lower-class urban blacks who provided most of the daily activism of vigilance committees and their more affluent white allies. Nearly every prominent white abolitionist, as well as antislavery politicians like William H. Seward and Thaddeus Stevens, at one time or another assisted fugitive slaves; many sheltered them in their homes. So did just about every major black abolitionist. Douglass, of course, became the era's greatest orator, editor, and writer in the cause of abolition and human rights. Pennington, while less well known, published A Text Book of the Origin and History of the Colored People (1841), a challenge to American racism, and participated in numerous efforts to achieve abolition and equal rights for northern blacks. Both provided aid to fugitives. Douglass concealed runaway slaves in his home in Rochester and forwarded them to Canada. "On one occasion," he later recalled, "I had eleven fugig at e way tofreed om tives under my roof." Pennington also aided individual fugitives and helped to raise money in Great Britain for New York's Vigilance Committee. Urban vigilance committees and rural antislavery activists hid runaway slaves and sent them on their way, and on occasion violently rescued fugitives from the clutches of slave catchers. They also defended fugitives in court, published accounts of their experiences, and raised money to purchase their freedom and that of their families. The public activities of these groups had an important impact on the evolving sectional conflict. Vigilance committee lawyers played a crucial role in persuading northern courts to recognize the "freedom principle"—the doctrine that once a slave (other than a fugitive) left a jurisdiction where local law established slavery, he or she automatically became free. Underground railroad operatives were deeply involved in campaigns for equal citizenship for northern free blacks, including the right to vote, access to public education, and economic opportunity. "Vigilance" involved all these activities and more.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Foner, Eric. *Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Eric Foner, *Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad* (W. W. Norton & Company, 2015), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Foner, *Gateway to Freedom*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.56

Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement

Fergus M. Bordewich

SELECTION	BOUND FOB CAN AAN
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 226–227 · Supplied edition: New York: Amistad, 2005.

Excerpt

Indiana. Black Baptist churches, meanwhile, had grown from just ten in 1830 to thirty-four in 1844. Not surprisingly, black churches were usually outspoken in their denunciation of slavery, and many of them were woven into the web of the abolitionist underground, like the Bethel AME church ment. Not all black churches were so engaged. Many shied away from politics altogether. Douglass withdrew from his own church because it was insufficiently antislavery. Also, few black ministers met his demanding mental qualifications to instruct and improve their congregations." At the same time, black newspapers, self-improvement societies, debating societies, schools, and reading rooms were also proliferating. Black meeting, in December 1842, the black Philomathian Society of Albany, New York, debated the proposition "Is the human mind limited," under brary intended for blacks who were excluded from the city's white institutions was founded by Robert Purvis, who also headed the local Vigilance Committee. David Ruggles had organized a similar library in New York.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bordewich, Fergus M. *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement*. New York: Amistad, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Fergus M. Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement* (New York: Amistad, 2005), 226–227.

Shortened citation:

Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan*, 226–227.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.57

Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction

Kate Masur

SELECTION	Epilogue
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton & Company, 2021.

Excerpt

In the wake of the 1883 Civil Rights Cases decision, an enduring regional distinction emerged regarding the question of race in public accommodations. In the 1880s and beyond, eighteen states—all of them in the North, Midwest, or Far West—passed laws barring discrimination in public accommodations. For instance, in 1885 the Republican-dominated Illinois legislature passed a measure, introduced by John W. E. Thomas, an African American legislator from Chicago, that guaranteed to all "persons" within the state's jurisdiction the "full and equal enjoyment" of various public accommodations. State supreme courts upheld the new public accommodations laws, and many states strengthened their antidiscrimination provisions in the 1890s. Meanwhile, developments in the states where slavery had been legal in 1861 were starkly different. Faced with the prospect of the federal Civil Rights Act in 1875, Delaware and Tennessee explicitly affirmed the right of public accommodations to discriminate as they saw fit. Then, from the late 1880s through the turn of the century, southern states passed stringent "Jim Crow" laws requiring racial segregation in public schools and in all manner of public accommodations.

There was also a marked regional split on race and voting rights. Beginning in the late 1860s, white southerners had already distinguished themselves for violent voter suppression directed at Black voters and white men who voted Republican. In the 1890s, southern Democrats followed two decades of terror and fraud with legalized disenfranchisement, rewriting their constitutions to reduce the Black vote and cement their party's power. By contrast, Black men continued to vote across the North, and by the early twentieth century, Black women joined them as voters in many places. Party competition in the North and West remained far more robust than in the South, and Black voters influenced local elections—and shaped policy—often by asserting independence from the Republican Party. In the early decades of the twentieth century, massive Black migration from South to North enabled Black voters—bolstered by rich networks of churches, women's clubs, and mutual-aid societies—to elect Black men to office, secure patronage positions, and eventually pursue their interests at the federal level.

THE ASPIRATIONS OF antebellum civil rights activists notwithstanding, the federal measures adopted during Reconstruction did not secure a baseline guarantee of racial equality in civil rights. Operating on the principle of "separate but equal," state and local governments continued to insist that race was a legitimate distinction in public policy and to reinforce forms of racial subordination that, as antebellum activists well understood, had originated in race-based slavery. Governments regularly used facially neutral laws—including those associated with vagrancy and other crimes linked to poverty—to perpetuate racial inequality. Meanwhile, white supremacist violence, as well as racial discrimination by private property owners, by employers, and in the administration of justice, went largely unchecked. From the 1890s to the 1950s, Congress chose not to use its powers under the Fourteenth Amendment to mitigate the damage.

And yet the legacies of the first civil rights movement lived on. In 1939, lawyers in the newly created Civil Liberties Unit of the US Justice Department (soon renamed the Civil Rights Section and later the Civil Rights Division) began using Reconstruction-era federal statutes to pursue cases on behalf of exploited and vulnerable Black and white laborers, particularly in the South. In 1947, the President's Committee on Civil Rights, commissioned by Harry S. Truman, delivered a report outlining the many ways in which the United States was failing to live up to the

Fourteenth Amendment's promises of equal protection and due process of law for all people. Recalling the first civil rights movement, the committee emphasized the still-unmet goal of securing for "each individual" the right "to physical freedom, to security against illegal violence, and to fair, orderly legal process." Meanwhile, activists, including Black lawyers, turned to the federal courts for redress, hoping the Supreme Court might breathe new life into the equal protection clause in particular. In 1954, they secured a signal victory when the court declared, in Brown v. Board of Education, that "separate educational facilities are inherently unequal" and therefore Black students who were subjected to segregated schools were "deprived of the equal protection of the laws guaranteed by the Fourteenth Amendment."

The mid-twentieth-century civil rights movement echoed and expanded the agenda of its antebellum predecessor. The new movement demanded federal protection for African Americans' basic rights to life, liberty, and property, but it also sought to end the racialized exploitation of laborers, which it likened to slavery itself. It demanded repeal of racially discriminatory laws and a newly robust understanding of equal protection of the laws. In addition to advocating racial equality in public education and public accommodations, which the nineteenth century's most progressive activists had envisioned, the twentieth-century campaign also sought protections against discrimination in private employment and housing. Like the first civil rights movement, the mid-twentieth-century movement pursued federal legislation to advance its goals.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Masur, Kate. *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Kate Masur, *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction* (W. W. Norton & Company, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Masur, *Until Justice Be Done*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.58

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	ntroduction: The Radical Tradition of Abolition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

The history of abolition is an integrated story even though it is usually not told in that manner. Black abolitionists were integral to the broader, interracial milieu of the movement. To read them out of the abolition movement is to profoundly miss the part they played in defi ning traditions of American democratic radicalism. The insidious divide between white thought and black activism that pervades some books on abolition is both racialist and inaccurate. There was no such racial division of political labor in the abolition movement. Early African American literature, black abolitionists' intellectual response to the pseudo science of race, and debates over citizenship and emigration performed the work of political protest. The theoretical sophistication of black abolitionist thought should fi nally put to rest the infl uential yet glib view of it as imitative, mired in the strictures of middle-class reform and elitism, and divorced from the plight of southern slaves and northern masses. Black and white abolitionists also went beyond a simple appeal to the American republican tradition that sought to include African Americans in its promise. They generated a powerful critique of the slaveholding Republic and constructed a counternarrative that highlighted its origins in the slave trade and slavery.[3]

The alternative nature of abolitionism is showcased by its diverse membership, which gave rise to cooperation as well as to creative confl ict across rigid lines of race, class, and gender that characterized early American society. The abolition movement, in which the disfranchised, including women, played a seminal role, was driven by passionate outsiders. Women were abolition's foot soldiers and, more controversially, its leaders and orators. In birthing the fi rst women's rights movement, abolition again revealed its radical face. The abolition movement married the black struggle against slavery to progressive white evangelicalism and to the iconoclasm of more secular reformers. Its steady radicalization on women's rights, organized religion, politics, and direct action made it quickly outgrow the empire of religious benevolence and moral reform.[4]

Abolition was a radical, democratic movement that questioned the enslavement of labor. The best works on abolition have tried to understand it by overturning simplistic social control models that emphasized social and ideological conformity to legitimize an emerging capitalist economy. Scholars have long known that modern racial slavery fostered the growth of early capitalism. If slavery is capitalism, as the currently fashionable historical interpretation has it, the movement to abolish it is, at the very least, its obverse. The history of capitalism illustrates that it has rarely marched in lockstep with democracy. The fraught relationship between capitalism and democracy is characterized more by contestation. Modern racial slavery was a monstrous hybrid that combined the horrors of an archaic labor system with the rapacious effi ciencies of capitalism.[5] Like the slave system they opposed, abolitionists were hybrids, old-fashioned moralizers as well as modern exponents of human rights. It is no coincidence that the brief, incomplete triumph of the abolitionist vision resulted in the greatest expansion of American democracy, and that the demise of abolition went hand in hand with the greatest contraction of democracy. At the heart of that movement lay the slave's struggle for freedom and human dignity.

Never the so-called monomaniacs they were lampooned as, abolitionists recognized that the oppression of slaves was linked to other wrongs in their world. More than a few abolitionists joined such international radical movements as utopian socialism, feminism, and pacifi sm and championed Native American, immigrant, and workingmen's rights. Some even anticipated contemporary American scourges, criticizing the criminalization of blackness and the use of capital punishment and force by the state. Abolitionists were the intellectual and political precursors of twentieth-century anticolonial and civil rights activists, debating the nature of society and politics, the relationship between racial inequality and democracy, nation and empire, labor and capital, gender and citizenship. They used

the vehicle of antislavery to criticize the democratic pretensions of Western societies and expose their seamier side. Abolitionists were opponents of rather than stalking horses of new forms of servitude and imperialism. As radical agitators, they were not so much theorists of liberal democracy as critics of it. In prioritizing the abolition of slavery, they did not ignore and certainly did not legitimize other forms of oppression in the modern world. Only by confl ating the state with the social movement can historians view abolition as the progenitor of European imperialism.[6]

Author's Notes

3. Frederick Cooper, "Elevating the Race: The Social Thought of Black Leaders, 1827–50," American Quarterly 24 (December 1972): 604–25; Stephen Kantrowitz, More than Freedom: Fighting for Black Citizenship in a White Republic, 1829–1889 (New York, 2012), 4; Manisha Sinha, "An Alternative Tradition of Radicalism: African American Abolitionists and the Metaphor of Revolution," in Sinha and Penny Von Eschen, eds., Contested Democracy: Freedom, Race, and Power in American History (New York, 2007), 9–30.

4. John Stauffer, The Black Hearts of Men: Radical Abolitionists and the Transformation of Race (Cambridge, Mass., 2002); Ellen Carol DuBois, Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848–1869 (Ithaca, 1978); Robert H. Abzug, Cosmos Crumbling: American Reform and the Religious 680 18, May 2, 9, 16, June 6, July 18, 25, September 12, October 17, 31, December 26, 1840; February 6, 13, 27, March 6, 20, April 3, June 5, 26, July 5, November 13, December 4, 1841; TE, September 26, 1839; "Letter from Frederick A. Hinton to John G. Whittier 7 November 1839" and "Letter to James G. Barbadoes from Lewis Tappan 2 December 1839," BAP; Nancy Prince, The West Indies... (Boston, 1841); Miller, The Search for a Black Nationality, 94–101; P. J. Staudenraus, The African Colonization Movement, 1816–1865 (New York, 1961), 244.

5. Alex Gourevitch, From Slavery to Cooperative Commonwealth: Labor and Republican Liberty in the Nineteenth Century (Cambridge, Eng., 2015), 69; Lawrence Goodwyn, Democratic Promise: The Populist Moment in America (New York, 1976); Samuel Gompers, Seventy Years of Life and Labor: An Autobiography (New York, 1925), 1:18–19; Stephen Fox, The Guardian of Boston: William Monroe Trotter (New York, 1970); James M. McPherson, The Abolitionist Legacy: From Reconstruction to the NAACP (1975; repr. Princeton, 1995), 390; Nick Salvatore, Eugene V. Debs: Citizen and Socialist (Urbana, 1982); Melvyn Dubofsky, We Shall Be All: A History of the Industrial Workers of the World (Chicago, 1969); Lewis Perry, Civil Disobedience: An American Tradition (New Haven, 2013), 2; Howard Zinn, "Abolitionists, Freedom Riders, and the Tactics of Agitation," in Martin Duberman, ed., The Antislavery Vanguard: New Essays on the Abolitionists (Princeton, 1965), 446–51; Michelle Alexander, The New Jim Crow: Mass Incarceration in the Age of Colorblindness (New York, 2010); Joel Quirk, The Anti-Slavery Project: From the Slave Trade to Human Traffi cking (Philadelphia, 2011).

6. William Lloyd Garrison, 1805–1879: The Story of His Life... (New York, 1885), 1:177; McPherson, The Abolitionist Legacy, x.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition* (Yale University Press, 2016), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.59

All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900

Martha S. Jones

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Unchaste black women could never claim respectability in the Hannibal "discourses." Levison, along with Edward Christy, also ridiculed black women's associations with women's rights politics. Such parodies undermined the political pretensions of black men and women while simultaneously undercutting the women's movement itself. Among the entries in Christy's 1858 Ethiopian Joke Book was a lecture "delivered" by an African American man, C. H. Fox, titled "Women's Rights." The lecture and commentary moved quickly to a condemnation of the "lords ob de creashun," of whom Fox rhetorically asked: "Who gib 'em de pribelege to use dat cognoblem? Wat did dey eber do to desarbe it? Did dey eber do anyting?"∑∂ As if his use of faux dialect were not su≈cient to undermine Fox's intellect, Christy goes on to have Fox mis-tell the story of "creashun," or Genesis, explaining the fall as the fault of Adam rather than "Ebe." In his version of Genesis, Fox depicts humanity's fall from grace as the result of Adam's inattention to Eve. Adam stole apples with which Eve made a pie. Upon Adam's incarceration for thievery, Eve, finding herself unsupervised, took up public speaking: "Ebe gub up takin in washin, and went to work an gub lectures in the Metropolitan Hall, an got a party ob strong minded women to help her."∑∑ Fox concludes: "Ain't it led to Women's rights conwenshuns, sewin masheenes, baby jumpers, and Bloomer costumes? Don't de women wear trousers, an coats, an Panama hats.... Don't you hear de cry ob womans' rights trou de land?"∑∏ Here, gender relations among African Americans, both at home and in public culture, were inverted and, in Christy's presentation, perverted. Finally, the women's movement itself was undermined. Not only did it rely upon ill-equipped men for its champions, but it was also grounded in errors of literally biblical proportions.∑π

Only a small number of black activists openly took on the minstrelsy scene. In the late 1840s, Frederick Douglass commented indirectly upon the genre's ramifications. Reporting upon a performance by Gavitt's Original Ethiopian Serenaders, a troupe of African American actors in blackface, the editor of the North Star remarked that only when such performers "cease to exaggerate the exaggerations of our enemies" would they be "instrumental in removing the prejudice against our race." Although Douglass generally discouraged black artists from appearing before white audiences, he urged those who did to model respectability through "industry, application, and a proper cultivation of their taste."∑∫ Douglass pointedly criticized white performers. The "Virginia Minstrels," "Christy's Minstrels," and the "Ethiopian Serenaders" were the "filthy scum of white society," he remarked in an editorial promoting an appearance by the abolitionist Hutchinson Family singers.∑Ω Black activists recognized the caricature of themselves in minstrelsy's images. As Lott explains, the stump speech genre in particular was based upon white observations of black churches and street oratory and parodied these goingson in African American public culture. They built upon a kernel of lived experience: women's rights had emerged as a force in the shaping of African American public culture, and at stake in such expositions—real and imagined—were ideas about black women and their standing in public life.

How might black activists respond to the increasingly hostile climate of the 1850s? Ambivalences of the late 1840s pointed the way. For those who had remained at best uncomfortable with the rise of political women and the adoption of a women's rights platform, the disappointments of the 1850s presented an opportunity for retrenchment; their black political conventions were not women's rights meetings. For those who thought in tactical terms, the 1850s opened the door to a questioning of the capacity of any one movement—whether that seeking to abolish slavery and achieve civil rights, or that seeking to advance women's rights—to further both "race" and "sex" interests. Yet for others the challenges of the 1850s became an opportunity to a≈rm their political vision and the alliances they

suggested.

Even Frederick Douglass faltered under the weight of the decade's degradations. In an 1855 speech before the Rochester Ladies' Anti-Slavery Society, Douglass reflected on the history of the movement and lamented its ine√ectiveness. Abolitionism had taken on too many issues. He concluded in hindsight that "the battle of Woman's Rights should be fought on its own ground; as it is, the slave's cause, already too heavy laden, had to bear up under this new addition." It had been "a sad mistake" to allow the antislavery movement to be "rent asunder by a side issue," he lamented.∏≠ Douglass's retelling of the 1840 schism among antislavery activists was overly simple; the woman question was only one of several issues that divided activists. His remarks explained more about the political terrain during the 1850s. When he had adopted his motto, "Right is of no sex, truth is of no color," Douglass had intended it to stand both as a set of principles and as a model for political activism. By the mid-1850s this potent political ideal could no longer determine the shape of political culture.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones, Martha S. *All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Martha S. Jones, *All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900* (University of North Carolina Press, 2007), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Jones, *All Bound Up Together*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.60

Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All

Martha S. Jones

SELECTION	HAPTER 3 To Be Black and Female
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2020.

Excerpt

By the early 1850s, the Black-led colored conventions had hit their stride. Black leaders regularly met in their home states and in national gatherings that provided an independent political platform for men excluded from state legislatures and national political parties. The delegates came out of local, grassroots organizations that conventions knit together. Print culture served as a powerful instrument for organizing. Those who missed meetings read newsweeklies like Frederick Douglass's Paper (formerly known as the North Star) along with pamphlets that recorded proceedings and broadcast them to remote locales. Increasingly, the perspectives of enslaved people influenced Black politics. Fugitive slave narratives put firsthand testimony at the center of political deliberations. The genre reached its high point with the 1855 publication of Frederick Douglass's second narrative and the stories of William Wells Brown, Solomon Northup, and Jermain Loguen. Sojourner Truth released her narrative in 1850, adding a distinct woman's perspective to these tales about the journey from slavery to freedom.

Activists recommitted to Black politics in response to the Compromise of 1850. Congress had passed a series of bills by which it hoped to settle tensions generated by slavery's expansion west into new lands seized at the end of the Mexican-American War. The act permitted newly added territories to decide whether they would permit slavery. California was admitted as a Free State, and the domestic slave trade was banned in the District of Columbia. But it remained to be seen whether this—or, indeed, the Compromise itself —would calm the tension between pro- and antislavery factions. A final provision of the Compromise, a new and onerous Fugitive Slave Act, especially troubled Black Americans. It promised that slaveholders could demand the help of federal and state officials in capturing fugitive slaves. Those fleeing bondage were no longer entitled to due process protections, such as a jury trial or the right to testify, even if state law said otherwise. In the face of this national edict, thousands of Black Northerners fled farther north to Canada, seeking refuge on free soil. Those left behind exercised new vigilance and radicalism as they defended themselves and their communities.

Those who left the United States after 1850 did not act merely on impulse. A new movement was gaining momentum, an unprecedented Black-led emigration movement. Its leaders encouraged African Americans to reconsider their place in the world. Perhaps they could make a better home in West Africa, Canada, or the Caribbean. It was time, emigrationists urged, to go after a chance for full citizenship in their own lifetimes. Opponents of emigration bitterly denounced such schemes and reiterated the fact that Black Americans had paid many times over for citizenship's full privileges in the United States. Emigration opened yet another fissure within Black politics, one in which old allies faced off across a divide that went to the core of their political identities.

Women also aimed to remake the decade's politics. Beginning in 1850, they convened the first national women's conventions and made plain that a new movement, a women's movement, was part of the political landscape. It had originated in the antislavery meetings of the 1830s, and local gatherings such as those in Seneca Falls and Rochester, New York, in 1848. But the meetings of the 1850s were neither incidental to another cause, nor were they local or impromptu. Organizers intended to build and sustain the women's conventions over many years. They wanted to attract broad attention. They wanted political rights. And they brought a broad array of concerns to the floor. The first meeting in 1850, at Worcester, Massachusetts, included demands for property rights, access to education and employment opportunities, and a general insistence upon women's "political, legal, and social equality with man." The convention even acknowledged enslaved women, whom the delegates deemed worthy of "natural and civil

rights."6

Everywhere across this fractured political landscape, Black women took advantage of the cracks. They were newly strategic and took every chance to make inroads. Rarely did African American conventions recognize their claims on politics—many still insisted that race and gender were separate concerns to be addressed by separate movements. But, in spite of the opposition, Black women found their voices standing at the podium or with pen in hand. They spoke with the same courage that had emboldened Maria Stewart two decades before. They surrounded themselves with like-minded women just as Jarena Lee found support in the Daughters of Conference. Stepping into the political spotlight, Black women preached, taught, and demanded to be heard on their own terms.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones, Martha S. *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Martha S. Jones, *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All* (Basic Books, 2020), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Jones, *Vanguard*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.61

The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority

Merton L. Dillon

SELECTION	The Abolitionists
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 20–21 · Supplied edition: DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Excerpt

Colonization Society may be regarded as a constructive prelude to the widespread abolitionist campaigns of the 1830s. But it had a negative effect as well, for by incessantly emphasizing the degradation of free Blacks, it probably strengthened the hold of racial prejudice on the minds of white Americans. On that account alone, most abolitionists came to regard the American Colonization Society as working against their own program and against the welfare of

Clearly unable to reverse the economic and social forces that so powerfully supported the growth of slavery, the cordingly, they devoted much of their effort before 1830 to extending humanitarian aid to the black population that already constituted a conspicuous minority in nearly every Northern city. The ending of slavery in the North had not been accompanied by change in the racial attitudes that for so long had supported it. If anything, prejudice increased as the numbers of free Blacks grew and as the insecurities resulting from rapid economic and social change were felt throughout white society. Prejudice was not expressed in educational opportunity. Although striking examples can be cited of Blacks who overcame all such obstacles, the majority were shut out by prejudice from sharing in the profits and advantages of the growing American economy.

Blacks must be recognized as men and brothers. If they were proved to be the equals of other Americans in capacity and accomplishment, abolitionists reasoned, the only justification for enslavement and discrimination would disaptheir program to embrace educating free Negroes and otherwise helping them to rise above the lowly position most of them then occupied. Such endeavor would satisfy the obligations of philanthropy—always a prime consideration for Quakers and other religious reformers—but its more significant function would be to demonstrate the abilities of Negroes and thereby prove current racial practices unwarranted. With the walls of prejudice shattered, reasonable men would stop scorning Blacks and begin to treat them in every respect as equals. Slavery itself, it was thought, could not long withstand that development. It should be noted that the reformers who held such expectations hoped to eliminate prejudice among Whites by working with Blacks. They would "improve" and "elevate" the Negro until he reached a level Whites found acceptable.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dillon, Merton L. *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority*. DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Merton L. Dillon, *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974), 20–21.

Shortened citation:

Dillon, *The Abolitionists*, 20–21.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.62

The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic

Richard S. Newman

SELECTION	suddenly reappear at that moment—it was seized by new generations of
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

and influence mainstream antislavery organizations and tactics. Viewed by early reformers as incompetent (they lacked political influence and legal standing), black activists were assigned segregated roles as teachers and community liaisons, if that. Not content to remain quiet while white reformers did the work, however, black leaders established a parallel universe of abolitionist tactics during the post-Revolutionary era. Revolving around the public sphere — pamphleteering against slavery's immorality, producing personal memoirs of oppression, making stump speeches — these tactics utilized the only political space available to African Americans during the early republic. Black activists hoped to enlist the public's sympathy and emotion to destroy racial subjugation. To repeat James Forten's 1813 phrase, black activists hoped to issue "an appeal to the heart." If Americans would take seriously the stories of oppression and injustice, Forten and his black colleagues asserted, they too would act swiftly to end slavery and institute universal equality in deeds as well as words. Despite an early and consistent push, literary tactics remained largely a part of African American life until a new generation of white reformers came to the fore in the 1820s and 1830s.

Profoundly influenced not just by religious principles or economic and political changes but by black activism itself, white leaders like William Lloyd Garrison and Amos Phelps sought for the first time to integrate the movement to end slavery. Even where whites dominated positions of leadership during abolition's "modern" era, a black sensibility pervaded the movement. In new reformers' campaigns for complete racial vindication and a thoroughgoing investigation of white power, American society saw in abolition "blackness" projected before the public eye as never before. The greatest indicator of this black influence was in print culture. That Frederick Douglass's Narrative of the Life of Frederick Douglass: An American Slave (1845), Harriet Beecher Stowe's Uncle Tonvs Cabin, with its appendix of true black narratives (1852), Garrison's fiery editorials telling Americans that abolitionists would be heard. These literary tactics flowed first from black abolitionism. Although they were magnified with white help, without a preceding black push, abolitionism would have looked and sounded both radically different and much less radical after 1830. In a similar way, women helped produce both a new abolitionism and a new stage for projecting their political concerns.

Previously excluded from formal roles in the movement, women became first-rank members of second-wave abolitionism. At one level, female reformers helped establish new strategies and tactics, particularly organizing at the grassroots level. Working in local communities throughout Massachusetts, women collected petition signatures, distributed books and pamphlets (especially those of female authors), organized antislavery meetings, funded abolitionist speakers, and often provided the critical votes for forming grassroots antislavery societies. Whether as protofeminists or concerned mothers, wives, and daughters, women changed the way abolitionists perceived the movement to end slavery. Their grassroots activities illustrated that every person in the republic had a role in ending bondage, not simply men in positions of political or legal power. In short, women gave practical meaning to second-wave abolitionists' grand strategy of turning the whole nation into one big antislavery society. In engaging in political behavior as essentially nonvoting citizens, women also expanded notions of political activism. Significantly, the transformation of abolition took shape in an era when politics itself expanded in all directions.

The debate over women's role in the republic was no ancillary concern — it was part of a broader reconsideration of political culture. For example, in petitioning individual senators or critiquing southern slavery in a public forum, female reformers collapsed distinctions between male and female, public and private — not completely, to be sure, but in a definite way. Throughout the North and in parts of the South, women broke out of explicitly female roles: they worked in northern factories, staffed reform organizations, and began their own movement for equal rights. Female abolitionism melded with these trends, making abolition itself appear much more than simply a movement to end slavery. Both northern and southern opponents of slavery spoke of abolition's disregard for notions of gender

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Newman, Richard S. *The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Richard S. Newman, *The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Newman, *The Transformation of American Abolitionism*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.63

Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860

Shirley J. Yee

SELECTION	Study in Activism, 1828—1860 Black Women Abolitionists: A
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 2–3 · Supplied edition: University of Tennessee Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Since the eighteenth century, free black women and men had worked to increasingly hostile to non-whites. Through individual efforts and collective participation in black benevolent and reform organizations, schools, and churches, they provided desperately needed material and spiritual maintain family, friendship, and community ties. From the process of

Proposals to bring about a gradual end to chattel slavery had been offered periodically since 1776, but gradualism was repugnant to this "dissenting minority" of northern whites and free blacks during the thirty years before the Civil War; they demanded slavery's immediate destruction. Free blacks, in fact, had been organizing on behalf of an immediatist antislavery and anti-racist agenda for at least a generation before white abolitionist William Lloyd Garrison emerged as the leader of "radical" abolition. [3] Nevertheless, black leaders welcomed Garrison as a sincere ally who decried the slave system as inherently evil and condemned the immediate end of slavery through interracial cooperation encouraged black activists and added momentum to their efforts.

Author's Notes

3. See Quarles, Black Abolitionists, and Curry, The Free Black in Urban America, ch.

5. Lois E. Horton, "Community Organization and Social Activism": 183.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Yee, Shirley J. *Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Shirley J. Yee, *Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860* (University of Tennessee Press, 1992), 2–3.

Shortened citation:

Yee, *Black Women Abolitionists*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.64

Liberty Power: Antislavery Third Parties and the Transformation of American Politics

Corey M. Brooks

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 16–17 · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 2016.

Excerpt

Through energetic postal and petition campaigns, abolitionists challenged Southern slaveholders and their Northern accomplices, who responded with antidemocratic efforts to smother abolitionism. As antislavery activists confronted a proslavery federal government, they embroiled themselves ever more deeply in the political process. Both the inaugural issue of William Lloyd Garrison's Boston-published Liberator in 1831 and the Declaration of Sentiments issued at the American Anti-Slavery Society's founding meeting in 1833 had urged constitutional federal restrictions on slavery, underscoring abolitionists' early commitment to political action. In the second half of the 1830s, slaveholders' efforts to censor abolitionist mailings and gag antislavery petitions, as well as to augment their political power by annexing Texas, led abolitionists to foreground claims about the political dangers slavery posed to free white Northerners.® Even their ostensibly apolitical "moral suasion" brought abolitionists into the maelstrom of national politics. Most famously associated with Garrison and the Liberator, moral suasion initially presupposed that abolitionists must convince liberal Southerners of the immorality of slavery and convert them to the antislavery cause.

This model of inducing conversions evoked the preachers of the Second Great Awakening, who converted thousands to a new, more proactive evangelical Protestantism. By 1835, the American-Anti Slavery Society's moral suasion campaign had churned out reams of pamphlets, tracts, and newspapers and sent lecturing agents traveling across the North to spread their antislavery gospel.' That year, the American Anti-Slavery Society embarked on its most impressive expansion of the moral suasion campaign. Capitalizing on the sophisticated national postal system and discounted mailing rates for newspapers, the society's New York office circulated mounds of antislavery literature to potential Southern converts. This postal onslaught mailed at least 175,000 separate items into the slave states in the summer of 1835 alone. Outraged Southerners alleged that abolitionists sought to incite slave insurrection, and the conflict came to a head when South Carolina vigilantes broke into the Charleston post office to seize and publicly burn a sack of mail their postmaster had detained.* Keenly aware that postal censorship discomfited many who had previously spurned antislavery agitation, abolitionists railed against federal

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Brooks, Corey M. *Liberty Power: Antislavery Third Parties and the Transformation of American Politics*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Corey M. Brooks, *Liberty Power: Antislavery Third Parties and the Transformation of American Politics* (University of Chicago Press, 2016), 16–17.

Shortened citation:

Brooks, *Liberty Power*, 16–17.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.65

Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom

David W. Blight

SELECTION	hapter 14: My Voice, My Pen, or My Vote
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Simon & Schuster, 2018.

Excerpt

Lake until he found “a suitable place to renew my acquaintance with the art of swimming.” He told of his sheer joy in a kind of diary for the paper: “Here all my boyish pranks in the front basin of Baltimore were renewed. I had a glorious swim.”

On his Ohio tour, which included a convention in Salem, Douglass was Jim-Crowed twice. Going west on a boat on Lake Erie between Buffalo and Cleveland, the captain forced him to sleep on wood planks on the deck. On the return eastward, a captain “assaulted” Douglass at a dinner table. He “pulled the chair from under us and brought us down upon the cabin floor,” wrote the traveler. In Buffalo, Douglass consulted a lawyer, only to be told that the law was clearly on his side, but that no local judge would convict someone in such a case. “There is something canine in the bark and growl of a genuine negro-hater,” concluded the weary traveler, who could still smile. “But a truce to puppies!” He loved his Ohio audiences of abolitionists. He felt inspired by the throngs “composed… mainly of hard-handed farmers, their industrious wives, daughters, and sisters.” Back home in New York surging in and out of small towns and villages, Douglass spoke twice a day, he said, for a week in Oneida and Herkimer Counties. In mid-October he spoke in ten towns in seven days, and at the end of the campaign he reported a total of eighty lectures in some forty days on the road.

Everywhere Douglass went, he denounced the Fugitive Slave Act, argued that slavery could never be legal, demanded his auditors enter the civic and political fray, and acknowledged that the characters in Uncle Tom’s Cabin danced in the heads of voters in this season of politics. Abolitionist principles, he believed, had never had such a political airing as now. At a speech in Ithaca in October he boiled down his decadelong career to a personal statement of his politics: “I have one great political idea. That idea is an old one… widely and generally assented to; nevertheless… generally tramped upon and disregarded.” The best expressions of his views, he said, were “found in the Bible.” From Proverbs, he declared, “RIGHTEOUSNESS EXALTETH A NATION—SIN IS A REPROACH TO ANY PEOPLE.” Such a moral declaration, he concluded, “constitutes… the whole of my politics.” Such a choice of Scripture is interesting for a recovering moral suasionist. In all the maxims about wisdom and folly in Proverbs, though, Douglass would also have read many passages about how the prudent gain knowledge and understanding, and the deceitful fall in folly. His politics was anything but settled; like his sense of abolitionist strategy, it grew into a mixture of righteousness and pragmatism.

In his paper, Douglass delivered a ringing endorsement of Hale and the Free Soilers, despite that Hale had refused to declare slavery a form of “piracy,” as demanded by the Liberty Party. The bulk of Douglass’s endorsement reveals a mind torn between moral principle and political action. He urged Liberty men to remember that a vote could seldom represent all of one’s moral convictions. Sounding like a veteran politician, he offered a “rule” for action: “The voter ought to see to it that his vote shall secure the highest good possible, at the same time that it does no harm.” Once converted to political abolitionism, Douglass characteristically gave it his heart, mind, and soul; but he demanded more of it than it could deliver. Demonstrating his political fickleness, just before the November 1852 elections, Douglass withdrew his support of the Free Soilers Within a year and a half everything seemed to change. Douglass’s initial reaction to the Kansas-Nebraska Act in early 1854 was a combination of outrage and refurbished hope.
In his view, the repeal of the Missouri Compromise (the geographical guarantee against slavery north of the 36°30' parallel) resulted from the “villainy of the slave power” and the “pusillanimity of the North.” “The Republic swings clear from all her ancient moorings,” he rejoiced from the isolation of Rochester, “and moves off upon a tempestuous and perilous sea. Woe! Woe! Woe to slavery! Her mightiest shield is broken… and for one, we now say… let the battle

come." He felt encouraged by the increasing severity of the various drafts of the Kansas-Nebraska bill. "If we must have the repeal of the Missouri restriction," Douglass wrote privately, "let nothing be done to soften the measure." With good reason he anticipated a political awakening in the North, a rise in antislavery sentiment, and the splintering of political parties along sectional lines. Here was the anticipated political upheaval beyond anyone's control. "Let the old parties go to destruction," Douglass gleefully urged, "and henceforth let there be only a free party, and a slave party."
A whole new front of attack seemed now to have opened, the ironic result of the Slave Power's insatiable quests for dominion.

The social furor and the rapid political realignment that gave birth to the Republican Party in 1854 provided the kind of revolutionary circumstance Douglass sought. He exploited every opportunity to expose the growing hostility between North and South, employing the concept of "irrepressible conflict" considerably before the Republican William H. Seward made it famous in 1858. Douglass strove not to assuage fears of the impending crisis but to hasten its coming. By 1855 he proclaimed, "The hour which shall witness the final struggle is on the wing. Already we hear the booming of the bell which shall yet toll the death knell of human slavery." As the old prophets had foretold for their own decadent and lost age, a vengeful and just God, and Douglass would add natural law, made this American conflict a certainty. His message was—people, get ready. "As a nation," Douglass exhorted, "if we are wise, we will prepare for the last conflict… in which the enemy of Freedom must capitulate." His fondest hope was that the new politics would bring an age of "Truth and Error, Liberty and Slavery, in a hand-to-hand conflict." In the old stories, Douglass told his readers, they would find the vision to end all compromises. He performed in editorials as a prophet with an ultimate duty of hope. "The disintegration of the once powerful political parties," he announced, "is a cheering and significant sign of the times. The throne of the despot is trembling to its deep foundations. There is a good time coming."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Blight, David W. *Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2018.

Footnote citation:

David W. Blight, *Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom* (Simon & Schuster, 2018), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Blight, *Frederick Douglass*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.66

Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War

Eric Foner

SELECTION	Salmon P. Chase: The Constitution and the Slave Power
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 79–80 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1970.

Excerpt

Because of his eagerness to work in the Liberty party and his legal ability and prominence, Chase was chosen to write most of the important Ohio and national Liberty platforms and addresses. Through them, he developed a purely political approach for the party to follow. Without abandoning the goal of eventual abolition, Chase shifted the immediate attention of the Liberty party to all the places where slavery could constitutionally be reached and challenged by the federal government—the District of Columbia, the territories, the interstate slave trade, and the fugitive slave law. He coined the phrase "the absolute and unconditional divorce of the Government from slavery," which meant abolition wherever the federal government had the power to accomplish it, the admission of no more slave states, and the expulsion of slaveholders from control of the government. As this had been the intention of the founding fathers, it became the political program of the Liberty party. "It was his pen and influence," an anti-slavery newspaper said of Chase, "which gave body and popular consistency to the doctrines of the Liberty party."[18]

Chase also did what he could to cleanse the Liberty party of the taint of extremism. Though he never denied that the party's ultimate goal was the extinction of slavery, he took great pains to differentiate between moral arid political anti-slavery action—or, more precisely, between abolition and anti-slavery. "Abolition," he wrote to Thaddeus Stevens in 1842, "seeks to abolish slavery everywhere. The means which it employs correspond with the object to be effected—they are of a moral nature—argument, persuasion, remonstrance and the like." Abolitionists' aims "cannot be effected by political power." But antislavery aimed at the separation of the federal government from slavery, and its deliverance from control by the Slave Power. As a result, "while abolition is not properly speaking a political object, antislavery is." Chase even suggested that the Liberty party publicly disown the label abolitionist, but eastern leaders would not hear of it. "In the first place," Joshua Leavitt complained to Chase, "I am an abolitionist, and expect to be one... until slavery is actually abolished." He went on to point out that there would be more abolitionists alienated by such a disavowal than non-abolitionists who would be convinced.[19]

Author's Notes

16. Schuckers, Chase, 595-99, 610, Warden, Chase, 118, 188-90, 206, 279, 288- 90; Chase Diary, February 21, 1836, April 30, 1843, and 1840 passim, Chase Papers, LC; Donn Piatt, Memories of Men Who Saved the Union (New York, 1887), 99; Albert B. Hart, Salmon Portland Chase (Boston, 1899), 53; N. S. Townshend, "Salmon P. Chase," OAHQ, I (June 1887), 116.

17. "Diary and Correspondence," 463; Kirk H. Porter and Donald B. Johnson, comps., National Party Platforms 1840-1856 (Urbana, 1956), 8; Congressional Globe, 31 Congress, i Session, Appendix, 83; unidentified news clipping, October, 1848, Scrapbook, Chase Papers, LC; Margaret L. Plunkett, "A History of the Liberty Party With Emphasis on Its Activities in the Northeastern States" (unpublished doctoral dissertation, Cornell University, 1930), 123-24.

18. Hart, Chase, 66; Theodore C. Smith, The Liberty and Free Soil Parties in the Northwest (New York, 1897), 88; Wm. G. Lewi.s, Biography of Samuel Lewis (Cincinnati, 1857), 286, 311; Chase and Cleveland, Antislavery Addresses, 96, 100; Porter and Johnson, comps., forty Platforms, 4—5; "Diary and Correspondence," 184—85; Bangor Platform, March 6, 1849, clipping, Scrapbook, Chase Papers, LC. Cf. Henry Wilson, History of the Rise and Fall of the Slave Power in America (3 vols.: Boston, 1875-77), H, l(>7-

19. Chase and Cleveland, Antislavery Addresses, 108; Chase Diary, June 26, 1843, Chase to H. B. Stanton and Elizur Wright, September 23, 1845, news clipping, Scrapbook, Chase to Charles D. Cleveland, October 22, 1841, Chase Papers, LC; Chase to Thaddeus Stevens, April 8, 1842, Thaddeus Stevens Papers, LC; Joshua Leavitt to Chase, December 6, 1841, Chase Papers, HSPa.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Foner, Eric. *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1970.

Footnote citation:

Eric Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War* (Oxford University Press, 1970), 79–80.

Shortened citation:

Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men*, 79–80.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.67

Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad

Eric Foner

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 145–146 · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton & Company, 2015.

Excerpt

Despite abolitionists' success in winning the liberty of the Lemmon slaves, Jane Johnson and her children, and other slaves brought to the North by their owners, the freedom principle had no bearing on fugitive slaves. For them, especially after 1850, the only sure avethef ugi tive sl av e l aw andthe bl ac k com munity 14 5 nue to freedom involved seeking refuge in Canada. And at the same time that it inspired heightened efforts to aid fugitives in the courts, the passage of the Fugitive Slave Law reinvigorated and radicalized the underground railroad. New local vigilance committees sprang up, and increasing numbers of abolitionists abandoned moral suasion to embrace the use of force.

At public meetings throughout the North, speakers, black and white, invoked the heritage of the American Revolution to justify violent resistance to an unjust law. At the 1852 national convention of the Free Soil party, an organization devoted to stopping the westward expansion of slavery, Frederick Douglass proclaimed, "The only way to make the Fugitive Slave Law a dead letter [is] to make half a dozen or more dead kidnappers." A New Bedford abolitionist urged fugitives to "practice the art of using firearms" so that they could shoot slave catchers. New York City was no exception. Speakers at the public meeting that raised money to free James Hamlet called for resistance. "Liberty is worth fighting for," declared one member of the audience, and the gathering advised fugitives to "arm themselves with the surest and most deadly weapons, to resist unto the death." White abolitionists, the Brooklyn Eagle complained, "were foolish enough to endorse the frenzied ravings of the negroes." 44

Rhetoric advocating armed resistance to the new law often amounted to little more than bravado. In parts of the North, however, efforts to assist fugitives took a violent turn. Dramatic attempts to rescue runaway slaves punctuated the 1850s—one study counts over eighty such confrontations. Before 1850, altercations of this kind had mostly been confined to the borderlands between slavery and freedom; now they occurred in many parts of the North. In October 1850, hundreds of armed blacks gathered at a jail in Detroit where a fugitive was being held. The frightened owner quickly agreed to allow his freedom to be purchased. In September g at e way tofreed om

1851, a predominantly black crowd in Christiana, Pennsylvania, routed a group of slave catchers that included a federal marshal and a Maryland owner, who were attempting to apprehend four fugitives. The crowd, which numbered over 100 men and women, many of them armed, was led by William Parker, a runaway slave at whose home two of the fugitives were hiding. The slaveowner died in the affray, Parker and the fugitives fled to Canada, and the Fillmore administration obtained indictments for treason— a capital crime—against forty-one men, the largest such mass indictment in American history. But pursuing the case proved almost impossible in an area with strong sympathy for fugitives. Only one person, a white miller who claimed to have been an innocent bystander, was brought to trial. After deliberating for only fifteen minutes, the jury returned a verdict of not guilty.

The following month, similar events unfolded in Syracuse, a city in the heart of upstate New York's burned-over district. A vigilance committee formed after the passage of the Fugitive Slave Act openly vowed to resist enforcement. On October 1, 1851, a federal marshal arrested Jerry McHenry, who had escaped from North Carolina eight years earlier and settled in Syracuse. A Liberty party convention happened to be meeting in the city; it adjourned to besiege the commissioner's office. A group that included the abolitionists Gerrit Smith and Samuel J. May and the fugitive slave Jermain W.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Foner, Eric. *Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Eric Foner, *Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad* (W. W. Norton & Company, 2015), 145–146.

Shortened citation:

Foner, *Gateway to Freedom*, 145–146.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.68

Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement

Fergus M. Bordewich

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 194–195 · Supplied edition: New York: Amistad, 2005.

Excerpt

'The new decade was a time of transformation for abolitionism. The American Anti-Slavery Society was, in a sense, a victim of its success. It had grown with astonishing speed since its founding in Philadelphia barely a decade before. But serious cracks soon began to show. By the end of the 1830s, William Lloyd Garrison had adopted a cluster of radical positions that were unacceptable to more conventional abolitionists. He rejected the Constitution because it incorporated tolerance of slavery, and advocated the secession of the North in order to separate it from the sins of the South. He declared in the Liberator, "My hope for the millennium begins where Dr. Beecher's expires—viz., AT THE OVERTHROW OF THIS NATION." He scandalized evangelicals—who made up almost the entire rank and file of the movement—by suggesting that not everything in the Bible was divinely inspired, and by disparaging clergymen as "blind leaders of the blind, dumb dogs that cannot bark, spiritual popes—that... love the fleece better than the flock." Garrison's opponents feared, with some cause, that antislavery would be submerged in Garrison's wider reformist agenda.

Lewis Tappan, for instance, regarded the Protestant churches as the most effective agencies for advancing the abolitionist cause, and felt deep suspicion of anyone who was not a professed evangelical. "I sometimes fear we have greatly erred in associating with ungodly men in the Anti S. Enterprise," he wrote to Gerrit Smith, who tried his best to remain on good terms with both factions. The last straw, at least for Tappan and the powerful circle of evangelicals based in New York, was Garrison's embrace of women's rights, including the participation of women in antislavery organizations on an equal basis with men. In 1839 Tappan's supporters, who represented the great majority of the movement's membership, as it proved, walked out of the American Anti-Slavery Society, leaving its rump to Garrison. They then met to form an entirely new organization, the American and Foreign Anti-Slavery Society, singing at the top of their lungs, "Lo! What an entertaining sight/Are brethren who agree."

Many white abolitionists had also given up hope that gentle admonition would convince slaveholders to relinquish their human property. Despite decades of appeals to Christian morality, the number of slaves in the United States had steadily increased to just under two and a half million major parties showed the least sign of being willing to challenge slavery's overwhelming power in Washington. Abolitionists had only contempt for President Martin Van Buren. As Andrew Jackson's vice president, Van Buren had provided the tie-breaking vote in the Senate that prohibited postmasters from delivering any abolitionist literature where it was prohibited by state law, and in his own 1837 inaugural address he had blamed mob violence on abolitionists' "reckless disregard for the consequences of their actions." Van Buren's Whig opponent in 1840, William Henry Harrison, as a member of Congress had voted to introduce slavery into Illinois, and he had publicly asserted that in his opinion the constitutional guarantees of freedom of speech and the press did not apply to abolitionists.

Into this vacuum Gerrit Smith and his upstate New York supporters that year launched the Liberty Party, the first political party in American history to advocate the immediate abolition of slavery, its only platform. Its nominee for president was James G. Birney, a former Kentucky slave owner who had become converted to abolitionism. As befitted its origins in the Burned Over District of central New York, the party spoke with a distinctly evangelical voice, calling upon all abolitionists to "Vote as you pray, and pray as you vote." Although the Liberty Party won only about 7 percent of the vote that year, and would never win much more than that, it would serve as the main national

channel of political action for abolitionists throughout the 1840s. It also represented the first crucial step in forcing slavery onto the nation's agenda, a process that would finally be complete with the founding of the Republican Party in 1856. Those who dared to vote for Birney did so at their peril.
In Cincinnati, for example, one Samuel Ogden cast his vote at the Cheviot Hotel, and was instantly attacked by proslavery men who beat him senseless and trampled him in the mud.

Although John Rankin would later join the Liberty Party, he voted as a staunch Whig that year. He had met Harrison personally, "and admired the manly stand he had publicly taken in favor of the use of the Bible in the public schools." (In contrast to many abolitionists, who advocated emancipation without condition, Rankin believed that the only peaceful way to free the slaves was through their outright purchase and emancipation by the national government; he estimated the total cost at one billion

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bordewich, Fergus M. *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement*. New York: Amistad, 2005.

Footnote citation:

Fergus M. Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement* (New York: Amistad, 2005), 194–195.

Shortened citation:

Bordewich, *Bound for Canaan*, 194–195.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.69

The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 176–177 · Supplied edition: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Excerpt

But the larger State societies continued to hold aloof, and many leading abolitionists refused to join. “I totally dissent from the foundation principle on which the society is based,” said Weld, “a denial of the equal membership of women.” But he dissented just as strongly from the agitation of woman’s rights by Garrison’s society: “The agitation of that question in connection with abolition societies and their operations I believe always has been, and must be, only would not join because he feared that “Old and New Anti-Slavery Organization… will be the occasion of keeping up and aggravating kind.” It soon became apparent that, even with Garrison removed, impulse was not with them. State and county auxiliaries soon withdrew; Birney and Stanton, the secretaries, resigned; and even persisted. Gathering around him the faithful remnants of the New York Committee, he labored ceaselessly for the cause. He maintained an enormous correspondence, especially with the British leaders; he The Turning Point

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Barnes, Gilbert Hobbs. *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*. New York: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Footnote citation:

Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844* (D. Appleton-Century, 1933), 176–177.

Shortened citation:

Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*, 176–177.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.70

Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery

James Brewer Stewart

SELECTION	ABOLITIONISTS AND THE FREE-SOIL MOVEMENT [
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 101–102 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

sixteenth district were thus supporting slavery by casting their ballots for Giddings, Liberty Party spokesmen warned.

To counter these allegations, Giddings began to develop a decidedly sectional line of argument, insisting that his antislavery principles were synonymous with his Whig partisanship. As early as 1840, long editorials appeared over his signature which pictured Whig candidate Harrison as favorable to antislavery measures, such as ending the gag rule and abolishing slavery in the District of Columbia. Democrats like Van Buren were, on the other hand, completely subservient to the South, Giddings maintained, and the Whig Party thus represented the only practical means for political action against slavery. Liberty men only hindered things, he argued, for every vote cast for Birney aided the slave-ridden Democrats by cutting into the Whig electorate.

Similar assertions were made repeatedly as antislavery feelings mounted during the 1840's. In the process, sectional neutrals and Southern politicians became aware of a terrible fact—the third party's antislavery challenge could not be met without allowing explosive sectional ideologies to circulate within existing political structures. Meanwhile, Giddings, Adams, William Slade, and the rest intensified the process by discovering that in comparison to their Liberty Party antagonists, voters perceived them as moderates. Their attitudes toward slavery, certainly radical by all standards of national politics, appeared restrained when compared with Liberty Party extremism. Duly elected agitators thus enjoyed the luxury of speaking as emphatically as they cared to. Suppose he should join the third party, Giddings once challenged a Liberty man, "what advantage could be gained?... Could I speak and act more freely, could I be more independent in the declaration of the principles of human rights?" The answer was plainly negative. While Liberty Party organizers never enjoyed victory at the polls, their local efforts nonetheless gave enormous stimulus to sectionalism within the major parties.

In the early 1840's, however, Leavitt, Stanton, and other political abolitionists began to yearn for satisfying results. Understandably, the 7,059 Liberty Party votes cast in the 1840 presidential election was hardly incentive for redoubled effort. In that election, the only feature of the Liberty Party platform had been the issue of slavery. No matter how wholehearted their abhorrence of slaveholding, voters also maintained passionate opinions on other issues. Especially after 1837, when dislocations began to plague the nation's economy, antislavery voters, like other voters, became anxious to know how candidates stood on such matters as banking, tariffs, and public land policy. A party which remained mute on such important questions was not going to get many supporters.

The Whigs, of course, encouraged voters to fix blame on the Democrats, the party in power when depression first took hold; antislavery Whigs also found a variation of this tactic extremely useful in their struggles with the Liberty Party. The ruinous banking, tariff, and land policies of the Democrats, they maintained, were the result of a party exclusively dedicated to forwarding the perverse interests of "slave labor." Protective tariffs, national banks, federally sponsored internal improvements, and equitable homestead laws, on the other hand, reflected the Whig commitment to the interests of "free labor" and "Northern rights." Their economic programs, such Whigs asserted, were as much antislavery measures as abolishing slavery in the District of Columbia or repealing the gag rule.

Alongside such a broad antislavery statement, the Liberty Party's "one idea' certainly appeared sectarian, especially since the rising antislavery constituencies already possessed

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Stewart, James Brewer. *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

James Brewer Stewart, *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 101–102.

Shortened citation:

Stewart, *Holy Warriors*, 101–102.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.71

Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction

Kate Masur

SELECTION	The Liberty Party and Repeal of the Ohio Black Laws in the 1840s
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: W. W. Norton & Company, 2021.

Excerpt

The 1848 election season also proved the final straw for the many antislavery Whigs who loathed their party's nominee for president: slaveholder and Army General Zachary Taylor of Kentucky. Intended as a safe choice in a polarized time, Taylor was anathema to many antislavery or "conscience" Whigs who were tired of yielding to the southern wing of their party. Joshua Giddings, who had heretofore insisted that the goals of the antislavery movement were best advanced within the Whig Party, now joined the third-party movement and campaigned for Free Soil candidates in the Western Reserve and across Ohio. Likewise in Massachusetts, antislavery Whig politicians who were committed to dismantling racist policies at home —including Henry Wilson and Charles Sumner—joined the Free Soil movement in 1848.

The Free Soil Party was larger and more diverse than the Liberty Party, and its stance on racial equality before the law was more opaque. Some of its adherents, particularly northern Democrats such as David Wilmot himself, were uninterested in questions of racial equality in the free states—or were outright opposed. Wilmot had told the House his goal was to preserve the territory acquired from Mexico for "the sons of toil, of my own race and own color." To knit the movement together at the national level, leaders emphasized opposition to the Slave Power and slavery's extension; the party's catchy slogan was, "Free Soil, Free Speech, Free Labor, Free Men." Unlike the Liberty Party platform of 1844, the Free Soil platform of 1848 made no mention of the rights of free African Americans, the repeal of antiblack laws, or Black men's right to vote.

At the state level, however, many Free Soilers continued to work for repeal of the black laws, and this was nowhere truer than in Ohio. In 1848, Norton Townshend was a candidate for the Ohio House of Representatives, running on the Free Soil platform. As a medical student in 1837, Townshend had met Salmon Chase and his abolitionist allies in Cincinnati. Townshend had helped organize the Liberty Party in the Western Reserve, and in 1844 he stumped for the party's agenda of repealing the Ohio black laws and ending federal support for slavery. In 1848, Ohio Free Soilers campaigned on both national and local issues. Defining his position on state policy, Townshend emphasized: "First of all, I desire the repeal of the disgraceful Black Laws, no vestige of them ought to remain, and for the honor of our noble State, I wish all record of them could be blotted from the otherwise fair Whig leaders recognized the significance of the black laws as they deployed heavy hitters in the Western Reserve to try to shore up support. Visiting Cleveland in 1848, William Seward sought to persuade his audience that the Whigs, not a small and untested third party, remained the best conduit for bringing the antislavery movement into politics and for repealing the black laws. Sounding much like Liberty Party leaders, Seward put equality at the center of his argument. Whigs recognized that "our democratic system ... is founded in the natural equality of all men—not alone all American men, nor alone all white men, but all MEN of every country, clime, and complexion, are equal—not made equal by human laws, but born equal." The black laws of Ohio, he said, like the laws requiring Black voters to meet a property requirement in his home state, reflected continuing "corruption" of the free states by slavery. He called on Ohio Whigs to stick with their party, to "inculcate ... the love of freedom and the equal rights of man" in their homes, to see that such values were taught in schools, and to reform their "own code" of laws.

Seward and the Ohio Whigs were right to worry about defections to the Free Soilers. When the election results were tallied, it became clear that Ohioans had sent eight Free Soilers to the legislature, most from the Western Reserve. The vote suggested that many antislavery Whig voters were now, like Giddings himself, tired of compromising. Most of the newly elected Free Soilers were former Whigs who retained strong Whig attachments, but two— Norton Townshend and John Morse—turned out to be genuinely independent. Morse was a former Whig and had even served in the legislature as a Whig, whereas Townshend, the longtime admirer of Chase, had been a Libertyite for as long as he had been involved in politics. Their distinct backgrounds notwithstanding, both men were prepared to stake their political reputations on using the third-party "balance of power" strategy to secure repeal of Ohio's black laws.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Masur, Kate. *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Kate Masur, *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction* (W. W. Norton & Company, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Masur, *Until Justice Be Done*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.72

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	FOURTEEN: The Politics of Abolition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 464–465 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

The political infl uence of the abolitionist Liberty Party on northern politics cannot be gauged by electoral bean counting. While it signifi cantly improved its national vote count in the presidential elections, growing steadily between 1840 and 1844 from 6,225 to nearly 62,000, it never came close to winning. Some Libertyites were better abolitionists than politicians, urging "moral action at the ballot box," and their perennial presidential nominee, James Birney, a reluctant candidate in 1840 who avoided campaigning, was not a huge electoral draw. Renominated in 1841, Birney started campaigning more, his letter of acceptance drawing attention to how slaveholders had used the federal government and Constitution to perpetuate their power as well as the persecution of African Americans, Native Americans, and Mormons. But as early as 1842 he avowed that not only the government and church but also the people themselves were corrupt. Birney's questioning of universal suffrage and his notion of giving immigrants the right to vote with "parsimony" made most abolitionists uncomfortable. Birney was specifi cally repudiating the "white man's democracy," swelled by the fi rst great wave of European immigration, which did not hesitate to trample on the rights of racial minorities. The attempt to expand the Liberty platform from the "one idea" of abolition by adding a variety of other economic and political issues resulted in further confusion. As Garrison argued, partisan politics proved to be uncongenial to abolitionism pure and simple. But as a political pressure group, abolitionists of all factions did infl uence northern politics.

Notwithstanding Libertyites' accusation that Garrisonians voted for "proslavery parties," many Liberty Party voters were rank-and-fi le Garrisonians who paid little heed to abolitionist organizational divisions. In 1841 the Liberty Party in Massachusetts even nominated the Garrisonians Francis Jackson as mayor, Nathaniel Rodgers and Wendell Phillips as aldermen of Boston, while Samuel Sewall, the Liberty Party gubernatorial candidate in Massachusetts, remained with the old organization. Many old organization men, Edmund Quincy complained, voted for the Liberty Party. The strongholds of abolition, Massachusetts, upstate New York, and Ohio, gave the Liberty Party its largest vote counts. Despite Garrison's personal aversion to electoral politics and public debates between Garrisonians and Libertyites, AASS lecturing agents helped to increase the new party's vote count. Abby Kelley and Douglass debated political abolitionists in upstate New York and Ohio, Kelley trying even, in copious letters, to convince the stalwart Libertyite Gerrit Smith to see the error of his ways. The lines between Garrisonians and the Liberty Party were still not well drawn in upstate New York or Ohio, Kelley reported. Giles Stebbins wrote to Gay that many Liberty men subscribed to the Garrisonian NASS.

Garrison thought Adams and Giddings took antislavery stances far ahead of those of most northern politicians and was thus more complimentary of them than of his abolitionist rivals in the Liberty Party, who, he argued, lowered the abolitionist standard by entering partisan politics. So carried away were Garrisonians in their praise of Adams, wrote Birney, that they had forgotten he was not an abolitionist. Garrison conceded the "purity of purpose" of Libertyites in private but strongly resisted converting the abolition movement into a political party. That did not prevent him from supporting antislavery politicians. In 1845 he sent MASS agents to work for the reelection of the antislavery Democratic representative John P. Hale in New Hampshire, who was read out of his party for his opposition to the annexation of Texas. To Garrison, the political place of abolitionists lay in agitation, to move the political center to the left, rather than in party politics. Smarting under Garrison's criticism for confi ning abolitionism to the ballot box, Libertyites accused the nonvoting Garrisonians of harboring a "covert design" to vote for the Whigs.

The abolitionist ideology of the Liberty Party converted Democratic rhetoric against the "money power" into a critique of the Slave Power and harnessed Whigs' statist beliefs to demand action by the federal government against

slavery. Appearing as vice presidential nominees on its presidential ticket were antislavery Democrats such as Thomas Earle in 1840 and Thomas Morris in 1844. But Morris's reluctance to endorse black citizenship discomfi ted abolitionists. While antislavery Whigs stole the party's abolitionist thunder, the presidency of the proslavery "His Accidency" John Tyler after the death of the Whig president William Henry Harrison in 1841 vindicated the case for independent abolitionist politics. As Leavitt noted, South Carolinian and Virginian slaveholders such as Calhoun, Abel T. Upshur, and Waddy Thompson dominated Tyler's administration and plotted the annexation of Texas.

Author's Notes

4. Leavitt to Roger H. Leavitt, May 17, 1841, Leavitt to Col. R. Hooker Leavitt, December 10, 1841, Leavitt to his mother, May 10, 1842, Joshua Leavitt Family Papers, LC; Barnes and Dumond, eds., Letters of Theodore Weld, 2:879–86, 899–913; TEFA, January 15, 20, February 10, 17, 24, March 3, 10, 17, 24, 31, April 7, 14, 21, August 25, November 24, December 29, 1842; February 23, March 9, May 11, 18, November 30, 1843; TLP, November 15, 1842; February 21, March 14, April 4, May 23, September 19, October 3, 1843; January 16, 30, March 5, 1844; TL, December 16, 1842; January 6, 13, February 3, March 10, 1843; March 8, 29, 1844; Seth M. Gates to Smith, August 28, 1839; February 4, June 7, 10, 18, November 23, 1841; January 25, 28, February 4, March 24, April 8, May 13, 1842; September 18, October 16, 1843, Gerrit Smith Papers, SU; James Brewer Stewart, "Abolitionists, Insurgents, and Third Parties: Sectionalism and Partisan Politics in Northern Whiggery, 1836–1844," in Alan M. Kraut, ed., Crusaders and Compromisers: Essays on the Relationship of the Antislavery Struggle to the Antebellum Party System (Westport, Conn., 1983), 25–43; Corey Brooks, " 'Stoking the Abolition Fire in the Capitol': Liberty Party Lobbying and Antislavery in Congress," JER 33 (Fall 2013): 523–47.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition* (Yale University Press, 2016), 464–465.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 464–465.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.73

The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority

Merton L. Dillon

SELECTION	The Abolitionists
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 146–147 · Supplied edition: DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Excerpt

The moral reformers and the antislavery politicians constantly quarreled with each other and exchanged vituperative comments. The moralists berated politicians for having descended from the lofty pinnacle of principle and

But in actuality theirs was only a lovers' quarrel. Discordant as reformers and politicians sometimes seemed to be, ing the slavery issue into arenas to which reformers had no access, and the politicians recognized that without the moralists' relentless agitation, they would have had no constitstrong leaning of our national character to politics." With understandable pleasure, Giddings noted the same process taking place in Ohio. "You beat the bush," he advised an abolitionist lecturer, "and I will catch the birds." There was no necessary antagonism between political and nonpolitical abolitionists. Giddings, Charles Sumner, and other antislavery Whig politicians often were invited to attend and take part in abolitionist meetings (even those organized by Garrisonians) in such widely separated places ists—sometimes of Garrison himself—on those occasions when their actions were thought to serve the abolitionist cause.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Dillon, Merton L. *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority*. DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Merton L. Dillon, *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974), 146–147.

Shortened citation:

Dillon, *The Abolitionists*, 146–147.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.74

Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837-1860

Richard H. Sewell

SELECTION	“the right sort of politics”
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 8–9 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1976.

Excerpt

respective of results. | have no doubt of ultimate success, but whether successful or not I shall continue to vote none but Liberty tickets.’

There were many reasons for this willingness, shared by the vast majority of Liberty party pioneers, to support so inauspicious an enterprise. Foremost among them was the conviction that third party action was necessary to give point and purity to moral suasion. Slavery, as a moral evil entrenched in a political system, had to be attacked simultaneously on two fronts. To shun political weapons was morally irresponsible; to work within the major parties was morally contaminating. Hence the best course seemed to be to combine moral appeals with an independent politics designed to seek legislative cures for legislated evils. For voting abolitionists to come out from established “proslavery” parties would exalt their moral influence and greatly enhance the power of political abolitionism. “Such a universal sacrifice of party preferences among anti-slavery men,’ urged Bailey’s Philanthropist during the 1840 campaign, “would prove them possessed of the true martyr spirit. It would win for their cause a consideration that could be attained in no other way, and multiply adherents to it far more than a thousand lectures or high-sounding resolutions....
To vote right will be to proselyte.”® Once the Liberty party entered the field, its backers increasingly stressed its role as purifier of the political process. Far from corrupting those who endorsed it, the new party, by its adherence to lofty principle and disregard for boodle and swag, brought probity back to politics. Indeed, many argued that support for the Liberty party might regenerate individuals as well as political groups. “He who votes the liberty ticket,” insisted the Signal of Liberty, “and by the force of moral principle bids adicu to his old party influences, and in the face of opposition gives his suffrages for the cause of human rights, greatly benefits himself. He raises himself in the estimation of [his] community.” The notion that abolitionists would themselves become corrupted and lose moral power by engaging in party politics was the specious invention of “cunning and profligate officeseckers,” claimed the Boston Free American. It was designed “to keep honest men away from 4 Joseph P. Gazzam to James G. Birney, Feb. 7, 1843, Dumond (ed.), Birney Letters, II, 712.

5 Philanthropist, July 21, 1840. Sce also Philadelphia Pennsylvania Freeman, Feb. 1, 1844; Ann Arbor (Mich.) Signal of Liberty, Feb. 19, 1844; Edwin W. Clarke to Oswego Union Herald, Feb. 17, 1841, Slavery Manuscripts, Box I, NYHS. tain portion of the clergy, who unwisely took it as a high compliment to their religion—a religion too pure for any day but the Sabbath.” This theme of regeneration—regeneration of abolitionist souls and political standards as well as of collective morality on the slavery question—helped to bind many abolitionists to the Liberty party and to give it something of the flavor of a religious crusade.

Yet it is misleading to say that “the Liberty party had been created more as a religious crusade than as a political party,” or that the Bible was its “political textbook.”? For although religious conviction unquestionably underlay many men’s attachment to the new party, and scriptural quotations studded Liberty pronouncements, by no means all of the Liberty men were impractical moralists or political babes in the woods. Most possessed some understanding of political realities, and the hopes they held for their party, while often extragavant, were those of intelligent reformer-politicians, not those of doctrinaire visionaries unfit for the cold world of politics.

Nowhere was this realism more clear than in Liberty men's conception of what their party ought to be. A few dreamed heady dreams of a party of freedom which in no time could elect up to a hundred antislavery Congressmen and intimidate the South into voluntary emancipation. "Every thing wears a new & glorious aspect," gushed Alvan Stewart in 1841. "The matter is absolutely settled that we must abolish slavery, & as sure as the sun rises we shall in 5 or 6 years run over Slavery at full gallop unless she pulls herself up & gets out of the way of Liberty's cavalry."® Most carly Liberty supporters, however, took a more modest view of their party's potential.

6 Signal of Liberty, Sept. 22, 1841; Boston Free American, July 1, 1841. See also Philanthropist, Jan. 6, 1841; Signal of Liberty, Sept. 29, 1841. For a view of the Liberty party as a manifestation of "political come-outerism" explicitly designed "to enable the virtuous to symbolize their allegiance to God," see Lewis Perry, "Versions of Anarchism in the Antislavery Movement," American Quarterly, XX, No. 4 (Winter 1968), 779-80.

7Eric Foner, Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party Before the Civil War (New York, 1970), 78. For similar views see Dumond, Antislavery, 301; Wyatt-Brown, Tappan, 282n2; Perry, Radical Abolitionism, 166-87. 8 Stewart to Samuel Webb, Nov. 13, 1841, Stewart Papers, NYHS. A year later, after his strenuous labors had produced only meager gains for the Liberty party in New York, Stewart showed a gloomier side: "Slavery has undone us. She has crawled into the Constitution, has paralized [sic] the church, broken the compact, silenced petition, overthrown morality, blotted out humanity, really dissolved the confederacy & left the Nation undone." Ibid. Oct. 10, 1842.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sewell, Richard H. *Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837-1860*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1976.

Footnote citation:

Richard H. Sewell, *Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837-1860* (Oxford University Press, 1976), 8–9.

Shortened citation:

Sewell, *Ballots for Freedom*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.75

Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War

Alice Felt Tyler

SELECTION	A FIRE-BELL IN THE NIGHT
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 489–490 · Supplied edition: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Excerpt

When the third decade of the century opened, the antislavery movement had become an integral part of the larger humanitarian movement that was sweeping through the North. The condition of the free Negro in their midst, the plight of the fugitive slave, and the degradation of the slave in the South were all matters of concern to countless men and women who were filled with the spirit of the time. The humanitarian was preacher as well as social worker, dogmatist as well as pragmatist, and concerned with his own soul's salvation as well as with the well-being of his fellows. Slavery was a sin; from that original premise, progress to the doc¬ trine that this sin must rest upon the consciences of all true Chris¬ tians was inevitable.

At the same time these religious humanitarians were democrats with a deep conviction of the worth of the individual and of the equality of all men. There could be no greater violation of democ¬ racy than the institution of human slavery, no greater degradation for the individual than the auction block. Slavery was a denial, too, of the most elementary human rights, and in defense of slavery the South had attacked the safeguards that had been placed in the Con¬ stitution and in every Revolutionary bill of rights to protect the civil liberties which alone could guarantee the democratic way of life. Freedom of discussion was the lifeblood of democracy, and the denial of that freedom in respect to slavery was regarded as an at¬ tack upon liberties too vital to be surrendered without a struggle. Slavery thus became a menace to the white citizen and to the non¬ slavery North as well as to the South.

The abolitionist, when he showed any interest in the economic welfare of the Negro, contented himself with trying to establish his black protege in a position where he might earn his livelihood and with protecting him from too obvious exploitation. It was not until late in the pre-Civil War period, and then but dimly, that the white laborers of the North began to see that Negro slavery and wageslavery had something in common and that freeing the Negro would be of significance in the cause of labor. Lincoln seems to have had some idea of this when he wrote in 1863, "The strongest bond of human sympathy, outside the family relation, should be one uniting of all working people, of all nations, and tongues, and kindred"; and yet Lincoln even then was working for the coloniza¬ tion of the freedmen outside the United States. The problem has been directly stated by the Negro historian, Du Bois:

The true significance of slavery in the United States to the whole social development of America lay in the ultimate relation of slaves to de¬ mocracy. What were to be the limits of democratic control in the United States? If all labor, black as well as white, became free — were given schools and the right to vote — what control could or should be set to the power and action of these laborers? Was the rule of the mass of Americans to be unlimited, and the right to rule extended to all men regardless of race and color, or if not, what power of dictatorship and control; and how would property and privilege be protected?2

For much of the period before the Civil War, however, Northern laborers resented black competition, and Western farmers were de¬ termined that the territories should be closed to slavery. "Free Soil" meant to them the absence of the Negro farmer and farm laborer.

From whatever sources the antislavery movement came, it was heavily tinged with the Puritan's somewhat sanctimonious concern with the conduct of others. The "holier than thou" attitude of the abolitionist, who insisted

that slavery was a sin and the slaveowner a sinner of the deepest dye, was irritating to say the least. The com¬ posite picture of the slaveowner to be drawn from the "revelations" of the abolition tracts was that of a cruel and ruthless man, wielding the lash over helpless slaves, indulging his basest passions at the expense of the virtue of his female slaves, and selling his own off¬ spring for profit. The injustice of the portrait and its effect in in¬ creasing the antagonism of the South did not deter the grim Puritans who drew it.

Fortunately not all the antislavery crusaders were of that kind. Revivalists coupled a practical interest in social betterment with their concern over the souls of their flocks. Charles G. Finney, greatest of the preachers of the Great Revival, declared that his converts "should set out with determination to aim at being useful in the highest degree possible."2 It is as difficult to depict a typical abolitionist as it is to picture a typical slaveowner.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tyler, Alice Felt. *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Footnote citation:

Alice Felt Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War* (University of Minnesota Press, 1944), 489–490.

Shortened citation:

Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment*, 489–490.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.76

Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America

Ann Braude

SELECTION	“Thine for Agitation”
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 7–8 · Supplied edition: Beacon Press, 1989.

Excerpt

Although woman’s rights agitators held their own conventions during this period, the women who led these meetings remained a subgroup within the abolition movement. Although many of them had faith in spirit communication, with the exception of those who organized the very first conventions in New York State, most of these women did not publicly identify themselves with Spiritualism and did not contribute to its progress as a movement.® They perceived themselves as working for equal rights for all people, black and white, male and female, but their concerns remained secondary in the larger movement, which was aimed primarily at the abolition of slavery. The full implications of this subordinate status within the abolition movement did not become clear until after the Civil War, when women were asked to set aside their claims until full rights were secured by black men.

Because the woman’s rights movement was essentially ancillary to the abolition movement, internal and external developments affecting antislavery determined its course. Abolitionists set the agenda, and woman’s rights activists either followed their lead or reacted against it. During the Civil War period, non-Spiritualist woman’s rights advocates abandoned agitation for women. When Abraham Lincoln signed the Emancipation Proclamation, Elizabeth Cady Stanton and Susan B. Anthony immediately formed the Women’s Loyal League to lobby for a constitutional amendment outlawing slavery. Following the war, the struggle over the Fifteenth Amendment to the Constitution, granting voting rights to freed slaves, convinced the abolitionist woman’s movement that voting was the most important right for women to obtain and transformed the woman’s rights mover ment into the woman suffrage movement.™ Spiritualist agitators did not depend on the antislavery movement for resources or networks and did not determine their reform program in response to abolition. In contrast to their non-Spiritualist sisters, they did not abandon woman's rights agitation during the Civil War, nor did they assume a narrow focus on suffrage after the war. They continued to pursue the broad woman’s rights agenda of the 1850s, pressing for dress reform, marriage reform, and economic rights, all of which disappeared from the postwar suffrage movement.

Although Spiritualists universally condemned slavery, their organizational independence from abolition allowed them to assert that woman's rights should be the preeminent reform. Like other abollitionists, Spiritualists believed that the oppression of African Americans and of women stemmed from the same cause. A typical speaker “protested against the ownership of souls” and called for “freedom for the black man and the white woman.” While most abolitionists felt that the dire conditions of freed slaves required that their cause take priority even after the Civil War, some Spiritualists asserted that white women suffered the worst slavery. Both groups ignored the double disabilities of black women. As one male Spiritualist put it, he wanted “equality for all before the law, regardless of sex or color (and I place woman before the Negro).” Even a speech by “a colored gentleman,” an unusual event at a Spiritualist convention, endorsed universal suffrage, enfranchising African Americans and women simultaneously.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Braude, Ann. *Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America*. Boston: Beacon Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Ann Braude, *Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America* (Beacon Press, 1989), 7–8.

Shortened citation:

Braude, *Radical Spirits*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.77

Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years

Charles Capper

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 191–192 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Nor in calling Fuller's book "the precursor of the Woman's Rights agitation of the last thirty-three years" (in Stanton's words) were these early feminists speaking in an intellectual vacuum; they were responding to real resonances between her outlook and theirs. First, there was the religious resonance: the book's liberal post-Christian perfectionism would broadly coincide, as the evangelically infused and Bible-centered abolitionists' rhetoric would not, with the almost uniformly liberal Protestant and freethinking views of most post–Civil War women's rights leaders. Second, there was the ideological tie. The book's central argument—that individual women had a right to autonomy not because the authority they would exercise was socially useful or uniquely benevolent but because they had universal rights as humans—was precisely the liberal principle whose espousal distinguished these feminists from their antebellum prefeminist predecessors. Third, while overlooking women's suffrage, her book's otherwise capacious application of those rights to women's education, employment, sexuality, and political discourse was also in harmony with the broad platform of the nineteenth-century's feminist movement. Fourth, there was Fuller's gender strategy: in her strong claim for the need for women's collective self-reliance, she prefigured the independent women's rights movement. And fifth, even the style of these early feminists, as displayed in their yearly conventions, mimicked the oratorical, testimonial, argumentative, and exuberant style of Fuller's book.[66]

Finally, there is the most intellectually important and underappreciated resonance of all: Fuller's Romantic idiom. Of course, like most nineteenth-century liberals, these early feminists intermixed a variety of warrants for their claims, from Enlightenment natural rights to utilitarian happiness and possessive individualist political economy. But especially in the feminist takeoff decade of the 1850s, during which a new edition of Woman in the Nineteenth Century sold in a few weeks in 1855 over three times as many copies as the first one had ten years earlier, the liberal Romantic strain vied, as never before or after, with these others. And to this strain Fuller contributed three critical concepts: individual self-development through studied introspection and boundless experience, social reform facilitated by organic spiritual conduits linking self and society, and transcendence through the infinitely contingent promise of the divinity's presence in the natural and historical world. Indeed, in various ways these concepts suffused several of the foundational feminist texts of the era. Stanton's "first 'set speech'" of 1848, a fiercely rationalist republican plea for woman's rights, concludes with Woman in the Nineteenth Century's final embattled chiliastic poem: "Though rabble rout may rush between,… / So shalt thou see what few have seen, / The palace home of King and Queen." "'Give me Truth. Cheat me by no illusion,'" the later (and by then religiously liberal) Sarah Grimké quoted from Fuller's recently published Memoirs in Grimké's remarkably Romantic-minded letter to the 1852 Woman's Rights Convention. "If our movement will adopt this slogan as its watchword," Grimké said, "it will overcome all obstacles, outlive all opposition." Although exevangelical ultraists like Grimké and political feminists like Stanton were hardly Romantics, insofar as they used Romantic concepts and tropes to defend women's rights and progress, Fuller's book was unquestionably the principal reason.[67]

These accents continued to resonate. Even in the later nineteenth-century era of spiritualism, positivism, and social science, Woman in the Nineteenth Century would be reprinted in substantial (if diminished) runs once or more every decade until the end of the century, after which it would not be published again until the beginning of revived interest in Fuller seventy-five years later. Indeed, the aged Stanton's last suffrage movement presidential address in 1892, "The Solitude of the Self," rested her case for women's justice not on her age's Victorian pieties but on the lonely

"individuality of each human soul"—a stoic harking back to the Romantic ethical core of Fuller's book. And even in these years, when younger feminist leaders often called for granting women the vote to counterbalance the votes of ignorant immigrants and workers, the feminist stream continued to bend in surprising Fullerlike ways. What, after all, were modernist feminist demands for men and women's "terrible honesty" in the 1920s, personal "liberation" in the 1960s, and, after that, the still salient integration of female "difference" and human "equality," if not a worldly return to the individualist and androgynous gender concerns that animated Fuller's restless Romantic seeking? It was a long swoop that the Romantic Fuller, who proclaimed "the soul is ever young, ever virgin," would have enjoyed.[68]

Author's Notes

65. Feb. 5, 1850, FL, VI, 52 ("toward America"); [ca. Nov. 1840]*, HO, 245 ("the better part"); Jan. 1, [1850], FMW, X, 60 ("heartily ashamed"); Mar. 5, ibid., 41 ("Lowell regretted"); Mar. 24, 1850, ChiL, 253 ("I suppose you saw").

66. Quoted in to LGL, Oct. 21, 1849, ChiL, 250 ("She bought the boy"); to JFC, Jan. 9, 1845, FL, VI, 357 ("exceedingly disagreeable"); FL, V, 303 ("meddling curiosity"); Feb. 5, 1850, FL, VI, 53 ("not care for him"); ibid., 76–77 ("good deal of contempt").

67. July 19, 1850, "ON," 257 (de Staël); to SGW, Feb. 24, 1850, EL, VIII, 237 ("Margarita Marchesa"); Apr. 17, 1850, FMW, XI, 136 ("business & politics"); Love Marriage, and Divorce and the Sovereignty of the Individual: A Debate between Henry James, Horace Greeley, and Stephen Pearl Andrews, ed. Stephen Pearl Andrews (New York, 1853), 178 ("indissoluble"); EPP to Ellen D. Conway, June 28, 1880, PL, 402 ("a virgin still"); Feb. 6, 1850, FL, VI, 57 ("cloud of false rumors"). For the Duyckinck-Jones quarrel, see EAD to William A. Jones, William A. Jones to EAD, and Mrs. William A. Jones to EAD, August and September 1848, Duyckinck Family Papers, NN-M.

68. July 19, 1850, "ON," 256 ("What shall we do?"); MS to RWE, Apr. 7, 1850, Spring Papers, NjHi ("Marchioness Ossoli" and contacted Emerson); Apr. 25, 1848, EL, IV, 61 ("take the first steamer"); Apr. 11, 1850, ibid., 199 ("proposed book").

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 2, The Public Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years* (Oxford University Press, 2007), 191–192.

Shortened citation:

Capper, *Margaret Fuller*, 191–192.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.78

Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848-1869

Ellen Carol DuBois

SELECTION	Feminism and Suffrage
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 32–33 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1978.

Excerpt

rhetoric for historical process, historians commonly identity the connection between the two movements as women's discovery of their own oppression through its analogy with slavery." Certainly women's rights leaders made liberal use of the slave metaphor to describe women's oppression. Yet women's discontent with their position was as much cause as effect of their involvement with the antislavery movement. What American women learned from abolitionism was less that they were oppressed than what to do with that perception, how to turn it into a political movement. Abolitionism provided them with a way to escape clerical authority, an egalitarian ideology, and a theory of social change, all of which permitted the leaders to transform the insights into the oppression of women which they shared with many of their contemporaries into the beginnings of the women's rights movement.

Women's involvement in abolitionism developed out of traditions of pietistic female benevolence that were an accepted aspect of women's sphere in the early nineteenth century. The feminist militance of Sarah and Angelina Grimké and the women who succeeded them was rooted in this common soil. The abolitionist movement was one of the many religious reforms that grew out of evangelical Protestantism. For the movement's first half-decade, the role women had in it was consistent with that in other benevolent religious efforts such as urban missionary activities and moral reform. Women organized separate antislavery auxiliaries, in which they worked to support men's organizations and gave particular attention to the female victims and domestic casualties of slavery. The Grimkés entered abolitionism on these terms."® Unlike other pious activisms, however, abolition had an unavoidably political thrust and a tendency to outgrow its evangelical origins. As the movement became secularized, so did the activities of benevolent women in it. "Those who urged women to become missionaries and form tract societies... have changed the household utensil to a living, energetic being," wrote domestic author and abolitionist Lydia Maria Child, "and they have no spell to turn it into a broom again."*" The emergence of the Garrisonian wing of the abolitionist movement embodied and accelerated these secularizing processes. In 1837 William Lloyd Garrison was converted by utopian John Humphrey Noyes to the doctrine of perfectionism, which identified the sanctified individual conscience as the supreme moral standard, and corrupt institutions, not people, as the source of sin. In particular, Garrisonians turned on their churchly origins and attacked the Protestant clergy for its perversion of true Christianity and its support of slavery."® Garrisonians' ability to distinguish religious institutions from their own deeply-felt religious impulses was an impressive achievement for evangelicals in an evangelical age. The reformulation of antislavery strategy around these beliefs drew Hicksite Quakers, liberal Unitarians, ultraist come-outers, and a disproportionate number of women activists.

The clergy was the major force that controlled women's moral energies and kept pietistic activism from becoming political activism. Garrisonian anticlericalism was therefore critical to the emergence of abolitionist feminism and its subsequent development into the women's rights movement. This was clear in the

Author's Notes

25. HWS, I, 52. Women's antislavery activities are surveyed in Alma Lutz, Crusade for Freedom: Women of the Antislavery Movement (Boston, 1968). Andrew Sinclair locates the origins of women's discontent in the abolitionist movement in The Emancipation of the American Woman (New York, 1966), p.

26. On the evangelical origins of abolitionism, see Bertram Wyatt-Brown, Lewis Tappan and the Evangelical War against Slavery (Cleveland, 1969), and Ronald G. Walters, The Antislavery Appeal: American Abolitionism Christianity and its support of slavery.28 Garrisonians' ability to distinguish religious institutions from their own deeply-felt rein an evangelical age. The reformulation of antislavery strategy activists. tivism. Garrisonian anticlericalism was therefore critical to the after 1830 (Baltimore, 1976). On women's early antislavery benevolence, see Keith Melder, "Ladies Bountiful: Organized Women's Benevolence in Early Nineteenth Century America," New York History, 48 (1967), 231—

27. Child, July 23, 1841, The Liberator, as reprinted in Aileen S. Kraditor, Means and Ends in American Abolitionism: Garrison and His Critics on Strategy and Tactics, 1834-1850 (New York, 1967), p.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

DuBois, Ellen Carol. *Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848-1869*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1978.

Footnote citation:

Ellen Carol DuBois, *Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848-1869* (Cornell University Press, 1978), 32–33.

Shortened citation:

DuBois, *Feminism and Suffrage*, 32–33.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.79

The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition

Gerda Lerner

SELECTION	THE GRIMKE SISTERS
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 190–191 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Garrisonism and on women lecturers. As it happened, the sisters had lectured at Andover two there to 200 women and a few men in the Methodist Church of the Seminary published a signed statement in which they 'moral" means must be used to bring it to an end. The means they approved were: "conversation, education and prayer." They went on to condemn "certain abolitionists" for surrounding the cause of abolition with "so many foreign and of females we have discountenanced and condemned as improper and unwise." were designed for the Ladies, and that those Gentlemen who were present must sustain the responsibility of a mixed

,, They also declared they saw no reason to regret meeting. their invitation to the Grimke sisters and recommended them to other women's organizations.

So this is all — the utmost reach Of priestly power the mind to fetter! When laymen think— when women preach— A war of words — a "Pastoral Letter!

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Lerner, Gerda. *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition*. Rev. and expanded ed. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Gerda Lerner, *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition* (University of North Carolina Press, 2004), 190–191.

Shortened citation:

Lerner, *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina*, 190–191.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.80

The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement

Julie Roy Jeffrey

SELECTION	feared her work might be harmful to her newborn baby, whom she was
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

fair and inclusive antislavery conventions. rier commitment had personal and familial costs. She found organizing the fair a “physical drudgery” and feared her work might be harmful to her newborn baby, whom she was nursing. “Sleepless nights and anxious distressed days are not calculated to give a healthy constitution to my baby,” she worried. Moreover, the storage of fair items in her home disrupted domestic life and was contrary to her husband’s “wishes—his pride.” As Sarah discovered, stress was part and parcel of abolitionism.?’

Mary Stil (1808-89), an African American who left traces of her abo- > litionist activities, was the daughter of a former slave from Maryland and‘ his fugitive wife. She grew up in New Jersey and, like four of her siblings, moved to Philadelphia. In the late 1840s, she kept a school for black children there and became involved in the life of Philadelphia’s black community. As a member of the Female Union Publication Society of Philadelphia, an organization affiliated with the African Methodist Episcopal Church, she helped raise money for publications that contributed “to the improvement and elevation of our people.” Her professional and organizational commitments, like her abolitionism, helped to establish her place in the city’s black middle class. During the war, she volunteered to teach freed slaves. Heading south, she found her “heart... very sad” and realized that “T have desided hastily about going so far from home alone.” Although the climate in South Carolina proved problematic for her health, the enthusiasm of her pupils lifted her spirits. She adapted so well to her important work that in 1869 she moved to another American Missionary Association school in Florida, where she remained until 1872.24

The contributions of these and countless other women to abolitionism’ reveal the varied and important part they played in the most significant reform before the Civil War. Herbert Aptheker points out that abolitionism was the first major social movement to involve women in all aspects of the work. What he does not emphasize enough, however, is what many of the ean ates Sanne 6 leaders realized: without women abolitionism would have been far more Jeaders realized: without women, marginal a movement for change than it was.’ = This book follows a thematic and T roughly c chronological approach. he an poem eam - ~Chapter. 1 focuses.on the 1830s and the efforts abolitionist leaders made t to_ n had already demong free produce movements or ‘Geb writing iting antislavery nee for p publication, William Lloyd Garrison _did not initially expect women to play a great part in abolitionism. Gradually he became aware of the benefits of their assis —— ann, e and began to urge — ee ee eee ee 5 _and 1 joined female antislavery societies. Chapter 2 explores women *S EX- _perience in abolitionist organizations in the 1830s and the ways in which enous a “they 1 met the challenges of organizational life. Active membership in an “antislavery society and involvement in its projects demanded skills and attitudes that moved women beyond the conventional boundaries of middleclass female life. Petitioning, the central work for many antislavery societies, exemplifies the ways in which women confronted social norms in the cause of duty.

. The division of the national antislayery movement in 1840 created a new set of circumstances for abolitionist women. Chapter 3 focuses on en ene _the i impact of dissension and disunion on women working for immediate emancipation in the 1840s and 1850s. S Some societies disbanded, while others managed to struggle along, often with reduced numbers. Women often felt beleaguered and isolated, although they may have felt more isolated than they were in fact. During these decades, the communications network, initiated in the 1830s, played a crucial role in connecting women to one another and to abolitionism. This network also facilitated the antislavery fair, the great work of the 1840s and 1850s. Chapter 33 argues that women’s fairs made an important contribution to the survival of

antislavery and enmeshed women in the commercial world. The 1 role of work, especially handwork, in sustaining enthusiasm i is a significant theme i in the “discussion of fairs and women’s assistance to) fugitive slaves.

Chapters 4 and 5 explore different aspects of female activism in the _1840s and 1850s. Chapter 4 follows women’s paths in Christian and politi “cal abolitionism and shames slsows they spoke: out it against “proslavery” reli- ~ duty allowed them to redefine what was “required of them as abolitionists and as women. Chapter 5 describes the response of women to the __crises of the 1850s. By the 1850s, female activism included working in the underground railroad and lecturing for the antislavery cause. Sources are abundant enough for this period to demonstrate the involvement of black women in all aspects of antislavery, including public lecturing. During a decade of continuing crises over the expansion of slavery, northerners proved more tolerant of women’s public participation in the antislavery crusade than they had been during the 1830s. Chapter 6 focuses on the Civil War and shows how women’s efforts for _ abolitionism during the war represent an extension of the work of three — decades and the fruition of efforts to enlarge the s scope of female “ activ-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jeffrey, Julie Roy. *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Julie Roy Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.81

The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898

Lisa Tetrault

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2014.

Excerpt

WHEN, THEN, DID SENECA FALLS EMERGE as the main story with a codified, familiar structure? And why? How did the meeting at Seneca Falls become the myth of Seneca Falls? In what ways did that story, that origins myth, serve as a collective political resource for post-Civil War feminists? And—if stories are actors, essential to mounting resistance campaigns — what type of movement did it help produce? Lastly, how and why did Stanton and Anthony use this story to intervene in broader national memory debates after the Civil War, and with what outcome? These are the central questions of this book. It unravels the tangled skeins of suffragists' collective memories to recover the politics behind this creation legend and its ultimate effects.

within the antebellum feminist-abolitionist coalition that fractured along painful fault lines immediately following the Civil War. It examines how suffragists responded to the fraught politics of the late 1860s by creating a trial in 1850, not Seneca Falls in 1848, as the origin of the campaign, revealing how fungible the question of beginnings still was. Chapters two and three explore the sprawling, expanding, and chaotic movement politics over the early 1870s, which left Stanton and Anthony on the defensive more often than they would have liked. So they began tentatively, and then more decisively, sketching out a Seneca Falls origins narrative to try gaining traction in the sprawling postwar movement. Partly because of the eventual triumph of a Seneca Falls origins narrative, which foregrounded woman suffrage and a federal strategy as the pinnacle of a rights agenda, much of the vital debate over what a women's rights agenda should be in the postwar era has been lost—or at least scattered into a host of separate, unconnected stories. Chapters two and three integrate that history back into the story of how a postwar women's suffrage agenda developed and examine how Stanton and Anthony, who faced challenges in every direction, used an increasingly codified Seneca Falls narrative to intervene in that process.

production of their massive three-volume History of Woman Suffrage. Those magisterial volumes were their most definitive statement of a Seneca Falls origins myth, their most robust intervention in post-Civil War memory politics, and their most righteous insistence that the deeds of women would not go unrecognized or unrewarded by anything less than full citizenship. Here, they used Seneca Falls to lay out an alternative memory of the Civil War, a hitherto unrecognized suffragist memory, which defies scholars' efforts to map memory politics of this era as defined by a battle between an emancipationist memory, on the one hand, and a white supremacist memory, on the other. Chapter five argues that the maturation of a Seneca Falls mythology by 1890 helped to fundamentally transform the movement and lift Anthony to the pinnacle of that reorganized movement. After this, it would be harder and harder to see these middle decades without the veil of the collective memories that suffragists built around them. To see through that veil, we must first recover the history of those memories themselves, memories that were born in the immediate, tension-filled aftermath of the American Civil War.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tetrault, Lisa. *The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Lisa Tetrault, *The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898* (University of North Carolina Press, 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Tetrault, *The Myth of Seneca Falls*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.82

Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872

Nancy A. Hewitt

SELECTION	Women's Activism and Social Change
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 226–227 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

no public resources to employ. The multiplicity of their concerns and the limits of their numbers assured each ultraist a full day's and a full life's work. While ultraist women shared far more labors with men than their benevolent or perfectionist counterparts, a life's work in activism was still more arduous. They performed many of the same tasks as other activist women—fund-raising, publicity, petitioning—but many fewer people were spread over more causes. As in perfectionist circles, limited resources were divided between men and women in the same campaigns, though ultraist women, working in joint-sex associations, did maintain some control over the use of the funds they raised. At the same time they were expected to and wanted to participate more fully in the organization and direction of public events. They were in fact more likely than other activist women to take on new, and often socially unacceptable, roles as itinerant lecturers, presiding officers in public meetings, delegates to state and national conventions, and authors of pamphlets, resolutions, and policy statements.

Because they pursued unpopular causes by unwomanly means, ultraists had to work harder to gain the resources necessary to the continuation of their campaigns. In 1844 Paulina Wright of Utica wrote to Amy Post that their antislavery fair "was more opposed than anything that had been started in our goodly citty [sic] for years." While assuring her Rochester colleagues that, because of the opposition, the money collected "'is simon pure Antislavery money," Wright also observed that it was a very small sum." Small sums collected at many separate events was the only way for ultraists to maintain their principles and the cause simultaneously, and since fund-raising was largely women's work, that meant continual labor. In 1849, for instance, the women's sewing circle of the WYNASS met weekly to make sale items for their fairs, while some women also met on Tuesday evenings with the WNYASS executive committee. These meetings were often held in the homes of members, so that women may have been called on simultaneously to perform domestic and public duties.

Two members of the sewing circle alternated as directors of the antislavery reading room, and others journeyed to neighboring towns to manage or assist at antislavery fairs. Several women worked long hours to organize the annual meeting and ~ fair in Rochester in December, a women's meeting in J anuary, and the winter lecture series. These women could not rely on the support of local editors or clergy so they were more responsible for publicizing the events they scheduled. In addition, the very women who performed these myriad labors for the WNYASS also performed them on behalf of woman's rights, the Congregational Friends, working women's righis, temperance, and the anti-capital punishment movement. In dollars and cents and individuals aided, ultraist contributions to social amelioration or social reform in Rochester were far less obvious than those of either benevolent or perfectionist women. In part, the lack of visibility resulted from ultraists' failure to keep systematic records of those they helped. Many ultraists worked on the Underground Railroad helping fugitive slaves, but no records were kept of the number working or the number aided.

An Indian from the Cattaragus reservation wrote the Posts periodically, thanking them for medical treatments; there may have been others who did not write. Ultraist women worked to organize local seamstresses, took unemployed and abandoned women into their own homes, hired ex-slaves as domestic servants or farm laborers, hosted itinerant lecturers, distributed reform literature, circulated petitions, and collected funds; but they kept no annual summaries of labors performed as did the other women's associations in the city. Moreover, because ultraists did not restrict their efforts to the local arena, their contributions to social change could not be measured only within the perimeter of Rochester. What did result from ultraist labors was a reshaping of community attitudes about race relations,

women's roles, and similar issues. Rochester's ultraists never came close to converting large numbers of their neighbors to the views they held, but they moderated hostility to such views. Woman's rights conventions, for instance, generally received less strident and satirical critiques in Rochester papers than in those of other cities. Antiabolitionist mobs never attacked abolitionist meetings in Rochester, even in years noted for the virulence of such attacks elsewhere.* According to Susan B. Anthony, bloomer wearers were less subject to public ridicule and physical harassment in her home town than in other upstate New York communities." Ultraists

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hewitt, Nancy A. *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Nancy A. Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872* (Cornell University Press, 1984), 226–227.

Shortened citation:

Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change*, 226–227.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.83

American Reformers, 1815-1860

Ronald G. Walters

SELECTION	Women and a World without War
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 111–112 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

(including journals like the Una, run by Paulina Wright Davis in Rhode Island in the mid-1850s). Yet woman's rights remained closely and newspapers. The union between antislavery and woman's rights had both negto feminism (anything connected to antislavery was suspect), and it continued to complicate matters after the Civil War. The Fourteenth and Fifteenth Amendments (1868, 1870) were particularly divisive. These granted voting rights to African Americans, something abolitionist women could not oppose, but the Fourteenth used the word "male" in defining suffrage and citizenship. The net effect of the two amendments was to make it unconstitutional to ban men from voting, but not to ban women. Thereafter, to secure the franchise for all American women would require following one of two difficult courses, either For many abolitionists the painful choice was between supporting one important goal at the cost of making another harder to achieve. The result was a deep rift in the woman's movement in the late 1860s, as some leaders backed the amendments and others did not. The old bond between abolitionism and woman's rights, nonetheless, had been valuable. It provided feminism with articulate supporters and with an important, it gave both crusades the kind of emotional power that comes only when personal grievances resonate with a larger social

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Ronald G. Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 111–112.

Shortened citation:

Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860*, 111–112.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.84

The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement

Julie Roy Jeffrey

SELECTION	the villages—and the smaller cities in the interior."
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

1835, after Theodore Weld's lecture in Austinburg, Ohio, 150 women were so solemnly impressed by "the reality, extent, & unspeakable evils of the system of Slavery" that they formed the Ashtabula County (Ohio) Female Anti-Slavery Society and formally signed their names under the society's constitution. Less impressive in terms of numbers but similar in terms of dynamics was the experience of women in Dighton, Massachusetts. Although "their was not more than three or four who had thought much on the subject of slavery," the eloquence of English lecturer George Thompson was so moving that twenty-three women formed an antislavery society.* Such public rites had overtones of an evangelical revival meeting. Given the background of antislavery lecturers, many of whom were ministers or had contemplated entering the church, the evangelical atmosphere was predictable. Like sinners poised on the anxious seat, exhorted to come forward and be saved, those listening to antislavery lectures were urged to come forward and commit themselves to the holy cause of abolitionism.? Though a spellbinding outside lecturer could act as the catalyst for the ceremony of commitment, local women might orchestrate the event. In Mellville, Massachusetts, some ladies of the village, recognizing they had

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jeffrey, Julie Roy. *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Julie Roy Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.85

Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States

Lori D. Ginzberg

SELECTION	"Her Strongest Moral Organ"
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 18–19 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 1990.

Excerpt

Furthermore, no matter what the goals of women, an analysis that conflated femininity and morality contained within it both conservative and radical implications for the work of female activists themselves. As Nancy Cott, Barbara Berg, and others have shown, the insistence on women's shared characteristics and experience could constitute a conservative defense of existing sexual inequality but it could also provide the basis for women's organizing on their own behalf.[18] These radical and conservative possibilities were always in tension: the very assertion of an identity based on female morality carried within it both the conservative imperative to conform and a more radical call to define and act upon women's needs.! Within the same movement, organization, or, indeed, individual, the contradictory implications of female benevolence tangled its adherents (and later historians) in a web of ideology and interest that included, in the context of the antebellum period, not only identities of gender but those of class and cause as well.

The female moral reform movement of the 1830s and 1840s illustrates explicitly how the ideology of benevolent femininity could convey the need and strategy for fundamental change in sexual behavior and standards in the antebellum United States even as it expressed an emerging class identity. In this case, a campaign against "vice" underpinned an attack on a wide range of social ills, including a transformation of male- and money-dominated society itself on the basis of traits that were supposedly characteristic of women. Founded in 1834, the New York Female Moral Reform Society and its hundreds of branches sought on one level simply to end prostitution, a campaign at which they were extraordinarily ineffective.

More broadly, the movement advocated a single—"female"—standard of sexual behavior and urged its adherents to ostracize "licentious" men as they did "fallen" women.20° Moral reformers' descriptions of their visits to women provide a glimpse of the radical potential of women's assertion of their own supposed difference from men, not so much because they identified with poor women and prostitutes as because of the way in which they understood worth by a different standard from that presumably adhered to by men. By describing women as victims in a lustful society—and men as the very personification of that lust—they sought to define respectability itself not by wealth, which they insisted was tenuous and under men's control, but by women's own virtues. Female moral reformers blamed a bewildering array of societal circumstances for the seeming spread of licentiousness. Dancing, theater, long visits with men, foreigners, masturbation, and, especially, love for dress were constant temptations. Sarah R., for example, refused to abandon life as a prostitute: "The passion for dress was too strong to permit her to hesitate long about the means of gratifying it," explained the Advocate of Moral Reform.

"Popery," idleness, and drink added fuel to an explosive moral situation.?!

Author's Notes

18. Cott, Bonds of Womanhood; Barbara J. Berg, The Remembered Gate: Origins of American Feminism: The Woman and the City, rt800—1860 (New York: Oxford University Press, 1978). This is not to suggest that women who organized for moral reform would later become advocates of woman's rights. As Anne Boylan has demonstrated convincingly, participation in conservative benevolent work did not lead women into more radical, or feminist, activity. The development of a feminist strain of reform was ideologically distinct and reflected a different social group's political interests rather than a linear transition. See her "Women in Groups: An Analysis of Women's Benevolent Organizations in New York and Boston, 1797—1840," Journal of American History 71 (December 1984): 497-523.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ginzberg, Lori D. *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Lori D. Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (Yale University Press, 1990), 18–19.

Shortened citation:

Ginzberg, *Women and the Work of Benevolence*, 18–19.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.86

Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865

Mary P. Ryan

SELECTION	The era of association
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 123–124 · Supplied edition: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Excerpt

Under cover of privacy, without benefit of official encouragment, in association with one another, women exerted real social power and engineered major social change. This was especially true of the groups like the Female Moral Reform Society and the Maternal Association that arose during the 1830s in the wake of revivalism. The social consequence of these women's associations is nowhere more convincingly evidenced than in the fearful reactions of the Universalists. In 1827 the Evangelical Magazine and Gospel Advocate was almost jocular in its attack on women reformers. They were simply comical village do-gooders. By 1835 the editor had changed his tune considerably. Female associations now appeared as dangerous weapons of religious conservatives. Even the daughters of

Universalists were being seduced into attending gatherings arranged by benevolent evangelical women. Once within the viselike grasp of the Presbyterian faction, these young women lured their sisters, brothers, beaux, and even parents in the same direction. Such, according to the alarmist Universalists, was the nefarious web of the women's reform network: "The circle spreads and enthey are opposed to liberal principles but because they love society and prefer going with the multitudes." Women's associations, in the estimation of the editors of the Evangelical Magazine and Gospel

Advocate, were responsible for the "overwhelming balance of numbers" maintained by conservative churches: "The secret is contained in the well-directed energies of some half-dozen active and zealous females." The Universalists had quite correctly gauged the power of these voluntary, affectionate, and private networks of wom-

Universalism asked every mother to "put the question seriously and concisely to themselves - whether they had rather devote a few hours once or twice a month to social and religious purposes or con- The sources of this power deserve more historical attention than a single community study can provide. The bits of biographical information about the three major leaders of Utica's women's groups do, however, offer some important clues. All three leaders were married, but none of them were burdened with the full set of duties of the mistress of a large household. Neither Fanny Skinner nor Paulina Wright bore any children. Sophia Clarke was a mother of three, but an independently wealthy widow. More important, all three women must have gained support from one another, for they were part of the same circle of active Presbyterian women that had well. Sophia Clarke worked through family contacts that extended back to Connecticut, and then carried her influence on to a second generation in the activities of her children Erastus and Susan, as well as her nephews Edward Vernon and, of course, Theodore Weld. Sophia Clarke also lived conveniently next door to the First Presbyterian Church and parsonage. Fanny Skinner parlayed her connections as a boardinghouse keeper into the major support group for moral reform. Fanny Skinner's resourcefulness was forged amid family necessity. Her husband, as the local histories tell it, was once a promising young lawyer who quickly fell upon bad times and was largely supported by his wife. Fanny Skinner, interestingly enough, proselytized quite effectively for moral reform among the young law students who boarded with her.

The third major leader of women's association in Utica, Paulina Wright, came to the cause almost a generation later than Clarke and Skinner. She arrived in Utica to begin her reforming career buoyed up by the reform beliefs and merchant wealth of her husband, Francis Wright. She immediately familiarized herself with the women's network that had been built up by her sisters in the Presbyterian Church. Paulina Wright pumped that network for every reforming supporter she could find. She went the familiar women's route from door to door, promoting moral

reform, distributing temperance tion in support of the Married Women's Property Act. The women's network of Oneida County could, in the end, even lead to the borders of conscious feminism. Fanny Skinner also approached

Wright's position when, in 1838, she invited Angelina Grimke Weld to speak before her friends in the anti-slavery movement.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Ryan, Mary P. *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865* (Cambridge University Press, 1981), 123–124.

Shortened citation:

Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class*, 123–124.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.87

Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872

Nancy A. Hewitt

SELECTION	Women's Activism and Social Change
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 126–127 · Supplied edition: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Excerpt

Having survived the influx of antislavery workers with only minor disruptions, moral reformers soon battled each other over matters of policy and priorities. In 1845 the leaders of the American Female Moral Reform Society claimed that their initial goal, the purification of American society, was nearly achieved.* A majority of the society's board wanted to redirect their resources toward prevention and rehabilitation through houses of industry, homes for unemployed women and their children, and employment agencies. The Rochester society assured the board that they had absolute "confidence in the integrity of the majority...."* One of the FMRS's members wrote to the Advocate that "much tribulation" seemed necessary to success, and that if we "do not faint in the time of adversity... 'God may be glorified, and the enemy be discomfited [sic].'" Yet in the same year Mrs. Porter alleged that there was "blame... on both sides" and discontinued her service with the FMRS." By 1846 Mrs. Eaton was assuring her husband that though she was "going to a moral Reform meeting," she "hardly mentioned the subject" any more even to friends and relatives."

In times of tribulation, perfectionist women could no longer rely on either external support or evangelical zeal. After 1842 Rochester was devoid of revivals for twelve years. During this period liberal Protestant congregations such as the Unitarians provided new workers for reform, but their numbers were limited. Third Presbyterian had long ago retreated from its most progressive positions, but in the mid-1840s even many of the Bethel congregation lost their earlier enthusiasm. As Samuel and Susan Porter changed religious affiliations again, they lamented "the spiritual bareness" of Bethel and "its striking and retrograde movement... upon the subject of slavery."" Thus, as other factors made the pursuit of the millennium more difficult for women, the very notion of the millennium lost its power. As perfectionist women's public labors declined, those of benevolent ladies and ultraists expanded. Neither of the latter groups depended on millennial doctrines to justify their worldly work; neither experienced significant changes in economic or social status; and neither faced new and disruptive demands from extralocal associations.

Benevolent women rested their continued success on the same foundation of orthodox religion, affluence, and localized efforts upon which they originally constructed their associations. Ultraist women, never having been dependent on evangelical clergy or affluent husbands, were less affected by the economic and religious transformations of the 1840s, while their ties to extralocal associations provided assistance rather than contention in this period. Moreover, both benevolent and ultraist activists gained from perfectionism's decline. The CS and OAA benefited the most, but the WNYASS also garnered new members while facing less competition for community resources. The CS and OAA retained high levels of membership through the late 1840s, and their fund-raising appeals received "prompt attention

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Hewitt, Nancy A. *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Footnote citation:

Nancy A. Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872* (Cornell University Press, 1984), 126–127.

Shortened citation:

Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change*, 126–127.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.88

Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845

Catherine A. Brekus

SELECTION	Female Preaching in the Early Nineteenth Century
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 157–158 · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Excerpt

This concern with plain clothing was symbolic of a far greater quarrel with the values of the world. Most of the early Freewill Baptists, Christians, Methodists, and African Methodists belonged to the lower or lower-middling classes, and they were deeply ambivalent about the social and economic changes wrought by the market revolution. By preaching an ethic of Christian love over economic ambition, these sects tried to resist the incursions of capitalism. Although they were far less radical than the Shakers, who abolished private property in favor of communism, they still tried to shield their members from the worst excesses of the market. When the first Freewill Baptist church was founded in 1780, the "brothers" and "sisters" signed a covenant pledging that "they should not follow the customs of the world in trade, but do as they would be done by, and not as they are done by." Modeling themselves on the early Christians, they also agreed not to sue other believers and to "admonish the covetous." Above all, they swore to preserve the element of "protest" in Protestantism by renouncing all of the vanities and temptations of the world. Preaching an ethic of resistance rather than accommodation, they solemnly swore not to "conform to the world in its customs, fashions, and idle conversation; nor countenance them who do, but rather reprove them."Ωʃ

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Brekus, Catherine A. *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Catherine A. Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845* (University of North Carolina Press, 1998), 157–158.

Shortened citation:

Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims*, 157–158.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.89

The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898

Lisa Tetrault

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2014.

Excerpt

fought for women's rights by arguing for black women's basic humanity, offering themselves as exemplars of respectable womanhood. Whereas white women were presumed to be respectable, black women were not. And elite northern black women's public conduct as respectable women, emulating the very norms other white women's rights activists challenged, was itself often a claim to rights. Mocked and degraded in minstrelsy, popular cartoons, and other forms of popular culture, black women argued by their conduct that they belonged to the class of humanity known as "woman." Because the white women's rights movements often overlooked the concerns of black women—sometimes overlooking black women's basic existence—they often had to organize on their own. The failure of white women's organizing to address their concerns, and black women's simultaneous insistence that they control their own lives, meant black women often preferred to organize on their own. They were present in the ranks of the WCTU, the organized suffrage movement, the labor movement, and eventually the club movement, but even there, they frequently used those organizations for their own ends.

The sexism black women also encountered from within civil rights movement, from black brothers-in-arms, made voicing their concerns even more difficult at times. But they did voice them. Rarely, though, did they turn against black men. The black church emerged after the Civil War as a central organizing site for black women fighting to improve the conditions of their lives. There, one historian notes, "many new organizations were conceived, led, and operated entirely by women," supporting work within their communities and casting themselves as public actors. Women became teachers to uplift the race; laundresses staged strikes to protest exploitation; and lecturers publicized race concerns. Throughout all this activism, black women developed their own unique analyses. They insisted upon what scholars call an "intersectional analysis," one that simultaneously took up race and gender, seeing the two as inextricably linked." The sprawling, expansive women's movement grew over the 1870s into a multifaceted, broad-ranging campaign. And it offered trenchant, if competing, critiques about women's unequal position in society. Support for woman suffrage was in some ways a common denominator, but many disagreed over making it a primary emphasis.

Those that supported woman suffrage, moreover, disagreed about what voting rights even meant. Throughout the 1870s, women grappled with important questions about the nature and foundations of sexual discrimination. And in this vital debate, eae rections. There could be no single conception of woman's rights, because, in the words of working woman Jennie Collins, "there are not certain wrongs that apply to the whole sex."'" All this challenged leading suftragists, who urgently wanted women to rally around the vote.

" An Amendment and a Declaration As the women's movement expanded dramatically over the 1870s, the National Association had to deal not only with public opposition to enfranchisement and with its leaders' own reluctance to be back in the world of state work, but also with other visions of women's rights. As those movements became more powerful, Stanton's and Anthony's concern mounted. Their growing awareness about this challenge was reflected in the National Association's pronouncements. Their annual convention in January 1874, for example, gently condemned the outpouring of women's rights activism for being misdirected. From the convention floor, officers read a resolution advising that women's "proper self-respect and... best interests" lay in the "enfranchisement of their own sex"; this being "of far more importance than all" the other activities that "now absorb... a large majority of... women."'"' Although the leaders of the National Association believed a federal political solution could best free

women, they were constrained by the Minor decision. All that changed in 1876, when they tried once again to weave these many strands into a single, coherent movement.

That November the National Association issued an appeal and a petition for what it hoped would become the Sixteenth Amendment to the Constitution of the United States, announcing the organization's refusal to concede a federal strategy. The courts had seemed to close this door definitively, but as Anthony explained—employing new logic—her 1873 trial loss actually proved the legality of a federal strategy. If federal authorities could punish her for voting in the state of New York, then it stood to reason they could also protect her right to do so.'" In other words, if the federal government had the right to intervene negatively in state matters, then it could also intervene positively. (Such thinking drew upon general postwar debates over new conceptions of positive versus negative liberty.) The National Association simultaneously insisted that the Reconstruction Amendments had created federal authority to regulate voting, directly challenging the Supreme Court.'" They pointed to the ability of the federal government to intertere

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tetrault, Lisa. *The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Lisa Tetrault, *The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898* (University of North Carolina Press, 2014), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Tetrault, *The Myth of Seneca Falls*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.90

White Women's Rights: The Racial Origins of Feminism in the United States

Louise Michele Newman

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 17–18 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Second, white women, who previously had been seen by evolutionists like Charles Darwin and Herbert Spencer as inferior to white men—and thus held responsible for retarding the progress of white civilization—were suddenly transformed by theorists like Lester Ward, Otis Mason, and Charlotte Perkins Gilman into "racial conservators." White women now supposedly provided the racial stability that ensured the nation's future "racial progress," so the country could proceed with its imperial projects. This theoretical redefining of white women's role meant that white men were more free to cross the color line sexually, without there being any risk of white racial degeneration, as long as white women kept having adequate numbers of white offspring. Any decline in white women's fertility, however, was interpreted as a tremendous social problem, leading to "race suicide." (See figure 1-1 in chapter 1.) Miscegenation between white women and black men was deemed to be so threatening to whites' racial future that many whites found it inconceivable that white women would voluntarily have sex with black men. White women's traditional role as "mothers of the race" along with their new role as conservators of the race made them crucially important to the successful carrying out of US. colonial projects.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Newman, Louise Michele. *White Women's Rights: The Racial Origins of Feminism in the United States*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Louise Michele Newman, *White Women's Rights: The Racial Origins of Feminism in the United States* (Oxford University Press, 1999), 17–18.

Shortened citation:

Newman, *White Women's Rights*, 17–18.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.91

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

SELECTION	FIVE: Black Abolitionists in the Slaveholding Republic
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 140–141 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

To recognize Thatcher's lone effort in Congress to gain black Americans a hearing, Forten wrote a public letter to him in 1800. Forten was the third party of the triumvirate that included Jones and Allen that led black antislavery efforts in Philadelphia. Schooled at the Friends' Free African School, Forten rose from apprenticeship to acquire his master's sailmaking business. A wealthy sailmaker who had white and black apprentices working for him, he became a preeminent advocate for black rights and bankrolled Garrison's the Liberator. Forten's letter is notable not only because he recognized Thatcher's vote but also because he laid out the black abolitionist program of emancipation and black rights: "Seven hundred thousand [approximately the number of African Americans in the United States according to the Census of 1790] of the human race were concerned in our Petition; their thanks, their gratitude to you they now express... we derive some comfort from the thought that... there is one who shall use all his endeavours to free the slave from captivity... and preserve the free black in the full enjoyment of his rights." Challenging racist aspersions, he reasoned, "Though our faces are black, yet we are men; and though many of us cannot write, yet we all have the feelings and passions of men, and are as anxious to enjoy the birth-right of the human race."[23]

Blacks in New York matched the organizational and antislavery activism of those in Philadelphia. As early as the seventeenth century black New Yorkers sought to ensure the proper burial of their deceased, who were excluded from white church cemeteries. They formed a religious society that became the African Society in 1784. By 1795 the original Negro Burial Ground was destroyed. That year the African Society petitioned the New York Council for land to build a church and cemetery, and a year later black Methodists, including such prominent leaders as Peter Williams Sr., James Varick, and William Hamilton, began holding independent prayer meetings. In 1799 they seceded from the John Street Methodist Church and the next year built the African Methodist Episcopal (AME) Zion Church. Williams and the itinerant Methodist preacher George White, among others, signed its charter and articles of agreement. Despite an attempt led by White and Abraham Thompson to join Allen's denomination, Varick decided to form a new denomination, the AME Zion. It seceded from the Methodist Conference, was incorporated in 1820, established its own doctrine and discipline, and elected Thompson and Varick as elders. In 1828 Christopher Rush was elected superintendent and wrote a history of the church. The AME Zion's address explained, "When the Methodist society in the United States was small, the Africans enjoyed comfortable privileges among their white brethren in the same meeting-house, but as the whites increased very fast, the Africans were pressed back; therefore, it was thought essentially necessary for them to have meeting-houses of their own." While AME Zion cooperated with New York's black Asbury Church, which was still under the control of the Methodist Episcopal Conference, it established a history of rivalry with Allen's AME.[24]

The independent black church movement grew in New York after the establishment of the AME Zion. In 1808 New York's black Baptists formed the Abyssinian Baptist Church with help from Paul. Since 1792 black Episcopalians had repeatedly petitioned the Trinity Episcopal Church for land on which to build a church and school. By 1819 they had their own congregation, St. Phillip's Episcopal Church, pastored by Peter Williams Jr. Williams was ordained a priest in 1826 and became a leading black abolitionist until his death in 1840. His father was Peter Williams Sr., the founding member of the AME Zion. In 1821 the black abolitionist minister Samuel Cornish founded the city's First Colored Presbyterian Church. By 1826 African Americans in New York had founded ten black churches. As in Philadelphia, black women formed the backbone of these churches despite a male-dominated leadership. Women composed two-thirds of the Zion congregation and 75 percent of the Abyssinian Baptist Church's. As early as 1802 they formed a separate Female African Benevolent Association.[25]

Author's Notes

22. Bracey and Sinha, eds., African American Mosaic, 58–59; Bergman and McCarroll, eds., The Negro in the Congressional Record, 2:55, 230–45.

23. "Letter from James Forten to George Thatcher, January 1800," BAP; Julie Winch, A Gentleman of Color: The Life of James Forten (New York, 2002); Ray Allen Billington, "James Forten, Forgotten Abolitionist," in John H. Bracey Jr., August Meier, and Elliot Rudwick, eds., Blacks in the Abolitionist Movement (Belmont, Calif., 1971), 4–16.

24. A Short Account of the Rise and Progress of the African M.E. Church in America Written By Christopher Rush... (New York, 1843), 57; Carla Peterson, Black Gotham: A Family History of African Americans in Nineteenth-Century New York City (New Haven, 2011), 50–55; Leslie M. Alexander, African or American? Black Identity and Political Activism in New York City, 1784–1861 (Urbana, 2008), 8–13.

25. Craig Wilder, In the Company of Black Men: The African Infl uence on African American Culture in New York City (New York, 2001), chap. 2; Peterson, Black Gotham, 44–46; Leslie Harris, In the Shadow of Slavery: African Americans in New York City, 1626–1863 (Chicago, 2003), 82–85; John H. Hewitt, "Peter Williams, Jr.: New 694 of a Testimonial to S. P. Chase by the Colored People of Cincinnati (Cincinnati, 1845), 11, 27, 35; Betty Fladeland, James Gillespie Birney: Slaveholder to Abolitionist (Ithaca, 1955), 149–54; Stephen Middleton, Ohio and the Antislavery Activities of the Attorney Salmon Portland Chase, 1830–1849 (New York, 1990), 50–73, 92–113; Hagedorn, Beyond the River, 124–28, 140–93, 226–30; Hans Louis Trefousse, Benjamin Franklin Wade: Radical Republican from Ohio (New York, 1963), 32–38; Harrold, Border War, 79–93; Matthew Salafi a, "Searching for Slavery: Fugitive Slaves in the Ohio River Valley Borderland, 1830–1860," Ohio Valley History 8 (Winter 2008): 38–63.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Manisha Sinha, *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition* (Yale University Press, 2016), 140–141.

Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 140–141.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.92

All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900

Martha S. Jones

SELECTION	ntroduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Still others, such as Glenda Gilmore, examine the interplay between the sacred and secular realms of women's activism.∞π These and other scholars suggest that the late-nineteenth-century emergence of black women into public culture is best understood as an extended process that spanned generations and nurtured the ambitions of young women through families and communities.∞∫ This book expands upon these insights about black women in the late nineteenth century by demonstrating the half-century-long debates that facilitated their public capacities.

In All Bound Up Together, readers from the field of African American history will discover the extent to which the woman question shaped nearly every dimension of black public culture from the 1830s forward. Nearly all African American activists were required to consider the nature of female influence and women's rights and grappled with the consequences of those ideas for the institutions of which they were a part. Here I use the term "activist" much in the same sense as scholars James and Lois Horton have, to capture a collective of individuals, some of whom were highly visible but many more of whom were working people for whom public activism was but a small facet of their lives. For many, activism, be it in politics, the church, or any one of a number of associations, was not a vocation but a part of a life's fabric that included work, family, and community building. Throughout this book, many such individuals come to the surface of the historical record for just a moment, mentioned in a newspaper report, conference minutes, or a letter. As individuals they often quickly recede from view, but as a cumulative presence they are highly suggestive of the extent to which the woman question permeated African American life.∞Ω Rather than patriarchal or maledominated, black public culture was an openly and often heatedly contested space in which activists self-consciously wrestled with the meanings of manhood and womanhood and the implications of those ideas for the structures and practices of institutions. Thus, this book o√ers new insights about familiar terrain, including free black communities of the North and the struggle against slavery; the Civil War and emancipation; the promises of Reconstruction; and the disappointments and degradations of Jim Crow.

For readers from the field of American women's history, which has taken the position of white women as its paradigm, this book o√ers striking new insights into the history of women's rights and the origins of feminism. Throughout the nineteenth century, there was a distinct movement for women's rights among black Americans, but this movement defined its objectives relative to the parameters of African American society rather than American society writ large. Black women did not privilege matters of race over those of gender. Rather, they were active at the intersection of these two salient social categories and fashioned their tactics and their aims to suit this circumstance. In a significant revision of earlier accounts and analyses, this work demonstrates that the di√erences long associated with the terms of the Fourteenth and Fifteenth Amendments were already present during the 1850s. African American activists, in the face of the increasing degradations that followed the Fugitive Slave Act, generally purged women's rights and women themselves from the realm of black politics. Looking forward from the moment of the Reconstruction-era constitutional amendments, women's historians will discover that among African Americans, agitation for women's rights increased. The evidence for this renewed commitment to women's rights issues is found not in politics but in churches, where black women seized upon three decades of women's rights discourse and transformed their roles in what was a most important institution. Thus, this book revises prevailing views of a well-studied past, including the emergence of Victorian domesticity; the Seneca Falls convention and development of the women's rights movement; the work of the Civil War; the campaign for women's su√rage; and the club

movement of the woman's era.≤≠

African American women, their ideas, their activism, and the contours of their lives, are at the core of this story. This book adopts a perspective that Elsa Barkley Brown has termed "pivoting the center."≤∞ Centered on black women, this book does not leave them to stand alone. The character of African American public culture, both its gender-integrated aspects and its frequent alliances with white activists and institutions, means that to pivot is to confront multiple voices: female as well as male and black as well as white.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones, Martha S. *All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Martha S. Jones, *All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900* (University of North Carolina Press, 2007), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Jones, *All Bound Up Together*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.93

Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All

Martha S. Jones

SELECTION	NTRODUCTION Our Mothers' Gardens
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Basic Books, 2020.

Excerpt

Nineteenth in 1920—that promised them the vote. But lawmakers did not keep these promises, leaving many women to make their way in the face of rampant voter suppression: poll taxes, literacy tests, and intimidation. The long road to the 1965 Voting Rights Act was paved with Black women's organizing and courage. The result brought Black Americans, men and women, fully into the nation's political culture for the first time. That victory set the stage for how Black women today have assumed leadership: casting ballots, driving voter turnout, holding public office, and laboring in the trenches of precincts and parties.

The women of Vanguard built a movement for political rights that was never separate or for women only. Its foundation lay instead in the institutions they shared with men. Their politics unsettled these spaces with debates over what sorts of power women could exercise, and women placed real value on electing a bishop, sitting as a convention delegate, controlling finances, interpreting the Bible, running for a board, or commanding the podium. These same contests provided a training ground. Women honed their ideas while practicing leadership, the art of persuasion, and the necessity of compromise. They shouldered responsibility for the collective. They stood up to men and also won them as allies. Some women did go on to take part in suffrage associations and women's clubs. But Black women never limited their work to a single issue. Winning the vote was one goal, but it was a companion to securing civil rights, prison reform, juvenile justice, and international human rights.

Living at a crossroads, Black women developed their own perspective on politics and power. Their view was always intersectional. They could not support any movement that separated out matters of racism from sexism, at least not for long. Associations that asked Black women to set aside or subordinate one interest for another were never a good fit. They insisted, for example, that antislavery and women's rights were parts of one movement, and that civil rights included demands for women's liberty. Black women advocated for their interests as people doubly burdened by racism and sexism, and they reasoned that when society lifted them up as equals, everyone would rise. These insights led to a political philosophy rooted in a broad quest for freedom and dignity that extended to all of humanity.

The trouble of racism is one facet of this story, but for the women of Vanguard, their encounters with slights, exclusion, derision, and even violence were not the whole of their politics. Racism was a given, a constant. Some women risked being rebuffed in the interest of working in coalition with white women. Other women had no choice but to sustain the wounds of prejudice when their work or travel forced degrading confrontations. But oftentimes, Black women, with plenty of work to do in their own communities with one another, stepped around or turned their backs on racism. If white Americans too often cast a jaundiced eye upon Black women, it was not a look that they needed to return. Remaining at a careful distance from racism was essential to personal dignity and a self-defined approach to women's power.

The stories in Vanguard have often been overlooked. But not wholly so. Historians over the last half century have dug deep into African American women's pasts to recover their ideas, their organizations, and their distinct brand of politics. These efforts correct a record made more than a century ago by Susan B. Anthony, Elizabeth Cady Stanton, Matilda Joslyn Gage, and Ida Husted Harper, who dubbed themselves the historians of the early women's movement. Between 1881 and 1922, they published the six-volume, fifty-seven-hundred-page History of Woman Suffrage. But they told only one part of the story and in that relegated Black women to the margins. Later historians

relied upon these same volumes, producing new studies that, regretfully, repeated old omissions.

Vanguard corrects that record by retelling two hundred years of Black women's political history. It does not tell every story; no history can do quite that. But by recounting the lives of some of the many Black women who engaged in political fights, the picture of a whole comes into view. In some eras, Black women pursued power as singular, cutting-edge figures. At other times, they joined coalitions that included white women and Black men. Most often, Black women built political power in their own circles. There are as many stories as there are women, but those recounted in this book represent Black women's varied political lives and their many routes to the vote and beyond.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Jones, Martha S. *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Footnote citation:

Martha S. Jones, *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All* (Basic Books, 2020), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Jones, *Vanguard*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.94

Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860

Shirley J. Yee

SELECTION	Sowing the Seeds of Black Feminism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 137–138 · Supplied edition: University of Tennessee Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The movement that white women had created, however, was not the only movement, nor the primary one from the perspective of black women.

To shift the focus away from white middle-class women— to bring women possibility of a fuller examination of women's rights. [4] Moreover, such an approach calls into question the existence of a single women's movement, when in fact at least two existed simultaneously. Black women, by virtue of a long history of activism, had also generated a movement for women's rights, one that pursued an even broader agenda than that of white femiagain to establish their own pattern of activism by forming black suffrage for sexual equality, however, was not simply a response to exclusion by whites; it was a continuation and expansion of a tradition of resistance and elimination of racism as well as sexism. Consequently, their agenda was the most dangerous and radical that this generation of reformers could firmly entrenched forms of oppression.

Author's Notes

4. See hooks, Feminist Theory: From Margin to Center (Boston: South End Press, 1984).

5. Quarles, Black Abolitionists, 177; Terborg-Penn, "Black Male Perspectives on the Nineteenth-Century Woman," in Harley and Terborg-Penn, eds., The Afro-American Woman, 29; Horton and Horton, Black Bostonians, 66.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Yee, Shirley J. *Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Shirley J. Yee, *Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860* (University of Tennessee Press, 1992), 137–138.

Shortened citation:

Yee, *Black Women Abolitionists*, 137–138.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.95

The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston

Albert J. von Frank

SELECTION	ord in 1850, and had helped to arrange his lectures in Newbury
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Excerpt

COL ME LOU, AHO MAG TCIPeG CO allallst tS ICCLULICS 1th INC WDULY= port and Worcester. If we credit Higginson's own statements, what he mainly liked about Thoreau was his embodiment of Emerson— not just his Emersonianism, but the process of its representation or "acting out." Thoreau seemed to offer clues to something that Conway, for another example, had been desperately curious about, as in his first letter co Emerson: what an Emersonian style of behaving in the world would look like. While the modern image of Thoreau stresses his autonomy, he was for his contemporaries (both the disconcerted and the appreciative ones) often a sort of "applied" version of his mentor.!2

Thoreau was Emerson's rebellious "protester." Unwilling that "his money or his life" should further the interests of militant slavery, he had once famously withheld his tax and been led off to Concord jail, a prisoner of conscience. Emerson privately disavowed the act, declaring it to be in "bad taste," but there was a necessary ambivalence in his judgment because, as Richard Lebeaux stresses, the act was consonant both with Emerson's general views on self-reliance and with his particular opinion that "The abolitionists ought to resist and go to prison in multitudes on their known and described disagreements from the state." No misgivings that Emerson may have derived from the culture of his class—no falling back on the unrepresented portion of himself—could prevent others from seeing in this legal drama anything but the upshot of Emerson's own views.!3

In "Resistance to Civil Government," surely the finest antislavery tract ever written, Thoreau had said: "Under a government which imprisons any unjustly, the true place for a just man is also in a prison." That is to say, a man is just, and (a separately important issue) knows himself to be just, precisely to the extent that he is willing to act (and not merely to speak) on the side of justice, even as such conformity brings him into collision with the unjust laws of the government. One of the most important ways in which "Civil Disobedience" (as the essay is more familiarly known) seems to depart from the Emersonian mode is in its introduction of a division between speaking and acting. If Emerson characteristically makes the reader feel that words are actions (as he said), no reader of "Civil Disobedience" has ever received the words except as a subordinate gloss on a central significance-endowing action. The point is not just that this effect corroborates the aS ra between what might be called the party of the word and the party of the deed, and the crisis faced by the former in light of the advancing power of the latter. If Emerson, the writer/lecturer, is taken to represent Transcendentalism and if Garrison, the nonresistant, is taken to represent abolitionism, one sees their homologous relationship in a strenuous mutual privileging of language—at a time, moreover, when language was under enormous political stress. Thoreau's "bad taste" is a defection as notable and blameworthy in the context of literary transcendentalism as Frederick Douglass' was in the context of apolitical abolitionism.™4 Another, perhaps less interesting way of putting the same point is that Emerson covertly appealed to that advancing hunger for heroism to which Thoreau, in "Civil Disobedience," catered openly and dramatically. If heroism may be supposed to occur when an individual's love of justice exceeds his fear of unrighteous punishment, then heroism may be manufactured (as "Civil Disobedience" attempts to do) by bolstering that love or, equally, by allaying that fear.

One way in which Thoreau evades the Emersonian style is by attending more directly to the negative case. The high comedy of his essay comes from seeing "jail" as an absurdly aggrandized signifier, a tawdry bogeyman of the slave power. Here, then, is another way for rhetoric to convey permission. The revolutionary sign in "Civil Disobedience" is

not in the novelty of its ideas, but in Thoreau's recognition of the need, just then, to manufacture heroes by insinuating the inauthenticity or insufficiency of language in competition with action.

The new hero is a breaker of laws: If the injustice is part of the necessary friction of the machine of government, let it go, let it go: perchance it will wear smooth,—... but if it is of such a nature that it requires you to be the agent of injustice to another, then, I say, break the law. Let your life be a counter-friction to stop the machine.!> Martin Stowell, sitting in the tombs beneath the Boston Court House this day, might have quoted Thoreau's imperative to justify the actions he undertook out of his unwillingness that the official injustice of enslaving Anthony Burns should go forward, and especially that it should go forward in the name of Massachusetts and

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Von Frank, Albert J. *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Footnote citation:

Albert J. von Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston* (Harvard University Press, 1998), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Frank, *The Trials of Anthony Burns*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.96

Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War

Alice Felt Tyler

SELECTION	UTOPIAS OF RELIGIOUS ORIGIN
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 181–182 · Supplied edition: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Excerpt

The informality and spontaneity that characterized the educa¬ tional program were carried over into the social life of Brook Farm and made it altogether delightful. In his Historic Notes of Life and Letters in New England, Emerson wrote a commendation that was blended with good-humored criticism:

The founders of Brook Farm should have this praise, that they made what all people try to make, an agreeable place to live in. All comers, even the most fastidious, found it the pleasantest of residences. It is cer¬ tain that freedom from household routine, variety of character and talent, variety of work, variety of means of thought and instruction, art, music, poetry, reading, masquerade, did not permit sluggishness or de¬ spondency; broke up routine. There is agreement that it was to most of the associates, education; to many the most important period of their life, the birth of valued friendships, their first acquaintance with the riches of conversation, their training in behavior. The art of letter writ¬ ing, it is said, was immensely cultivated. Letters were always flying, not only from house to house, but from room to room. It was a perpetual picnic, a French Revolution in small, an Age of Reason in a patty-pan.

Orestes Brownson, who liked Brook Farm and approved its educa¬ tional theories, said that it was “half a charming adventure, half a solemn experiment,” and added that it was fun to live there, even better to visit.

As might be expected, there is every evidence that the students loved the regime. Every record of their life at Brook Farm pays tribute to its charm and to its glorious opportunities for a rich social experience. A young English governess, Georgiana Bruce, came to Brook Farm to study and worked in the household and the infant school for her board and tuition. Her account of her years there breathes her delight in the cultural and social life of the society.

What a royal time we had. The days were full of affection and sun¬ shine.... The very air seemed to hold more exhilarating qualities than any I had breathed before. Democracy and culture made the ani¬ mus of the association. Had the world denied you opportunity for edu¬ cation? Here your highest needs should be satisfied.... What a heav¬ enly world this was getting to be!1

The optimism of the whole community is reflected in her remark that “no Adventist ever believed more absolutely in the second coming of Christ than we in the reorganization of society on a fra¬ ternal basis.”

The unconventionality of Brook Farm social life was commented upon by most observers — and condemned by a few. The constant and friendly visitor, Margaret Fuller, for example, found it hard to get used to the fact that in the crowded parlor the young people sat on the floor during her Conversations. Thomas Wentworth Higginson, who never lived at Brook Farm but visited his cousin there, left a record of the gay costume parties, at one of which his cousin Barbara appeared in “a pretty Creole dress made of hand¬ kerchiefs from the West Indies,” and he spoke with apparent envy of the unconventional but gay clothes worn on everyday occasions by the Brook Farm boys —blouses of gay-colored chintz and “little round visorless caps with tassels.”1 He does not mention the fact that the workaday costume of Brook Farm girls included short skirts or knickers. In his American Notebooks, 1841-1852 Haw¬ thorne described in charming detail one of the gay picnics at the Farm where, in honor of Frank Dana’s birthday, a rural masquer¬ ade brought into the woods Indian squaws, a fortuneteller, gypsies, Diana, foresters, and children of all ages.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Tyler, Alice Felt. *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Footnote citation:

Alice Felt Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War* (University of Minnesota Press, 1944), 181–182.

Shortened citation:

Tyler, *Freedom's Ferment*, 181–182.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.97

Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850

Anne C. Rose

SELECTION	Economy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 132–133 · Supplied edition: Yale University Press, 1981.

Excerpt

Thirty-two people in all became members of Brook Farm between 1841 and 1844, and while none was as active in evangelical Unitarianism or Transcendentalism as Ripley, a number were closely enough identified with these movements for us to assume they shared his priorities. Among those who signed the Articles of Association in September 1841, Minot Pratt was the printer of the Christian Register and Charles Anderson Dana was a former Harvard student. Three Unitarian ministers—Samuel D. Robbins, Lemuel Capen, and Warren Burton—signed the revised edition of the Articles in 1842. A majority of the members, moreover, came from social groups most likely to appreciate reform focusing on intellectual and moral development. Of the twenty-seven who can be identified with reasonable certainty, ten were ministers, teachers, writers, and their wives, and six were former students. The fact that only two were businessmen and nine were working people, five of whom were farmers and their wives, also suggests that Brook Farm steered a middle course between the spiritual anarchism of Fruitlands and trade unionists' demands for exten¬ sive economic and political change.[58] Ties of kinship and friendship made it possible to rely on voluntary allegiance to religious principles instead of on more formal methods of reform. George Ripley brought his sister into the community, for example, and Sophia Ripley her cousin and niece. Similarly, the social distance between Minot Pratt, the printer, and the Ripleys was minimized by their acquaintance since the early 1830s, when Ripley briefly edited, and Pratt compiled, the Register.

The number of Transcendentalists associated with Brook Farm, though not as members, reinforced the neighborly atmosphere of the community as well as the emphasis on spiritual means and ends. All of the Transcendentalists were frequent visitors in the first few years, and Mar¬ garet Fuller in particular used the farm as a retreat from the pressures of her increasingly active public life as editor of the Dial and leader of the Boston conversations. Transcendentalist children were some of the pupils in the school the Brook Farmers conducted—Fuller's brother, Lidian Emerson's nephew, and Orestes Brownson's son, to name the most impor¬ tant. The community also accepted paying boarders, and these were often friends of the Transcendentalists. Charles King Newcombe, a writer from Providence, was an acquaintance of Margaret Fuller, as was Almira Barlow, the estranged wife of an ex-Unitarian minister.[59]

Author's Notes

58. See appendix C for a list of members, with the occupation, date of birth, place of birth, and date of admission to Brook Farm for each. I have used the following criteria for membership: signature of either edition of the Articles of Association (dated Sept. 29,1841, and Feb. 17, 1842, respectively) or signature of the Constitution (dated Feb. 11, 1844) or admission recorded in the minutes of meetings. All these documents are located in the Massachusetts Historical Society. Some texts have been published independently and in the secondary works and periodicals which I cite below. A resolution was passed on Feb. 18, 1844, that each member must sign the Constitution and supply the biographical information about him or herself that I have included. Thus the record after that date is almost complete. Before 1844, members generally signed the official agreements without supplying bio¬ graphical data. Thus my identifications of the pre—1844 group, as well as supplementary information about later members, are based on a survey of the literature on Transcenden¬ talism and Fourierism. The most useful work is Lindsay Swift, Brook Farm: Its Members, Scholars, and Visitors (New York: Macmillan, 1900), esp. pp. 111-201. On the three Unitarian ministers, see Samuel A. Eliot, Heralds of a Liberal Faith, 3 vols. (Boston: American Unitarian Association, 1910), 2:106 (Burton), 2:6 (Capen), and 3:336 (Robbins). Newspapers and periodicals are also extremely helpful, including the New York Tribune, Present, Phalanx, and Harbinger. 1 have not attempted to impose a tight social classification system, since members do not always fit easily into standardized categories (such as the students in the Brook Farm school, who were admitted to membership when they came of age), and I generally use descriptive analysis instead. It should be noted, however, that in the "working-class" category, I count all those who earned their living by manual labor, including farmers and printers, and in the "business" or "commercial" group, white-collar workers and owners of businesses. Wives, who usually listed no occupation, have been classified with their husbands unless otherwise stated.

59. On the students and visitors, see Swift, Brook Farm, pp. 69-109, 203-60. On Fuller's relation to Brook Farm, see William Henry Channing's comments in Memoirs of Fuller, 2:72-80, and Thomas Wentworth Higginson,☐ Margaret Fuller Ossolt (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1884), pp. 173-84. On Newcombe, see The Journals of Charles King Newcombe, ed. Judith Johnson (Providence: Brown University, 1946), esp. pp. 3-30, and his short story "Dolon," Dial 3 (July 1842): 112-23. On Barlow, see Haraszti, Idyll, pp. 19-22.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rose, Anne C. *Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1981.

Footnote citation:

Anne C. Rose, *Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850* (Yale University Press, 1981), 132–133.

Shortened citation:

Rose, *Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850*, 132–133.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.98

Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years

Charles Capper

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 310–311 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

Altogether, these contradictory and overlapping developments encouraged a critical, dissatisfied, and millennially expectant tone in Northern culture that would continue to grow until the Civil War. That Transcendentalists should rush in to add their own sympathetic notes to that harmony—or cacophony— of reforms should not be surprising. Transcendentalist ministers like George Ripley had absorbed the traditional Channingite Unitarian uneasiness over selfseeking materialism and its patrician corollary belief in the responsibility of "the better sort" to arouse the capacities of society's poor and downtrodden. At the same time, more culturally radical Transcendentalists like Emerson, Alcott, and Brownson had recently come to extract from the new philosophy important protodemocratic notions: the potential divinity of individual men and women; the necessity to liberate souls from spiritually confining institutions; the call to achieve an organic integration of thought and action, labor and consciousness, intellectuals and common life, were all—potentially at least—socially radical Transcendentalist ideas.[6]

Finally, by 1839, many Transcendentalists were becoming extremely hopeful about the possibilities for what some of them were beginning to call "democratic" change. That year George Ripley began reading about European and American pietistic communities, an interest that would soon join with his dissatisfaction with the social conservatism of the Unitarian church to propel him out of the ministry and into a full-time career as a communitarian socialist leader. Simultaneously, Orestes Brownson, who had been trumpeting the ideals of Saint-Simonian socialism for several years, accelerated his efforts, along with those of his friend and patron George Bancroft, now the Democratic boss of Massachusetts, to convince his fellow Transcendentalistsstthat a new, radicalized Democratic party was the political mechanism for social regeneration. Political radicalism now began to infect the Transcendentalist movement as a whole. Former anti-Democrats like George Ripley and James Freeman Clarke privately declared their "conversion... to Democracy" or "loco foco[ism]." The moderately Transcendentalist Western Messenger began publishing articles trumpeting the British working-class Chartists, "Loco-focoism," and "the development and realization of true democratic ideas."

After hearing Emerson's opening lecture in his series "The Present Age" in December—in which he had welcomed "the fruitful crop of social reforms" that favored "pure truth" and "simple equity" over "mere commodity" and "the Colleges and all monied foundations of learning or religion" that favored "tradition"—Theodore Parker excitedly wrote the moderate Transcendentalist Club member Convers Francis: "It was democratic-locofoco thghout, & very much in the spirit of Brownson's article on 'Democracy and Reform' in the last 'Quarterly'.... Bancroft was in ecstasies." It is true that such "democratic" enthusiasm was somewhat misleading. Neither Ripley nor Clarke, for example, was especially pro-Democratic party, and Emerson, who privately stigmatized the party as "vain & loud" and "wholly commercial," harbored, in addition, deep skepticism about the prospects of achieving social regeneration through any social or political institution. So, even more, did Alcott (who coolly wrote in his diary, "The Kingdom of truth is within, not out there, in Church or State. Vox populi vox diaboli"). But, as Parker's letter shows, these were strategic matters that club members, for now, talked about, if at all, only fleetingly.

Transcendentalists like Ripley continued to sound the call for a "philosophical democracy," and Emerson continued to urge his audiences to abandon all those unequal, luxurious, and "artificial modes of life" in business, labor, diet, and even housekeeping arrangements that make a person "a slave" and thereby "disgrace the soul." For the moment at least, Transcendentalism seemed to be indeed, as Emerson styled it, a "party of the Future."

How did Margaret Fuller fit into that party? One answer would have to be: philosophically at least, not very differently than she had three years earlier when she had first gotten to know Emerson and Alcott. Despite her readings in Plato, Coleridge, and, intermittently, post-Kantian philosophy, Fuller still had not found it necessary or congenial to work out anything like a systematic philosophy of the mind. On the other hand, her subjectivist aesthetics inspired by her German Romantics at least implied one. Meanwhile, her loyalty toward her own homegrown and now besieged Tiecks and Novalises remained as fierce as ever.

Author's Notes

5. May 21, 1837, EJ, V, 331-32 ("calamity"). There is still no satisfactory in-depth study of antebellum reform. A standard survey is Alice Felt Tyler, Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War (1944; New York, 1962); and a useful overview is Ronald G. Walters, American Reformers, 1815-1860 (New York, 1978). For a recent suggestive interpretation, see Lewis Perry, Childhood, Marriage, and Reform: Henry Clarke Wright, 1797-1870 (Chicago, 1980). John Higham, From Boundlessness to Consolidation: The Transformation of American Culture, 1848-1860 (Ann Arbor, 1969) is an insightful and pertinent essay on antebellum culture and ideology. The best introductions to the evangelical background are Perry Miller, The Life of the Mind in America from the Revolution to the Civil War (New York, 1965), chaps. 1-3; Nathan O. Hatch, The Democratization of American Christianity (New Haven, 1989); and Richard Rabinowitz, The Spiritual Self in Everyday Life: The Transformation of Personal Religious Experience in Nineteenth-Century New England (Boston, 1989). For good discussions of the philosophy of "come-outerism," see Whitney R. Cross, The Burned-Over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850 (Ithaca, 1950); and Lewis Perry, Radical Abolitionism: Anarchy and the Government of God in Antislavery Thought (Ithaca, 1973), chap. 4. For an overstated but still useful discussion of the radicalizing effect of the depression on American literary intellectuals, see William Charvat, "American Romanticism and the Depression of 1837," Science and Society, 2 (Spring 1938), 67-82. Varying interpretations of the "radical" or Locofoco Democrats may be found in Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., The Age of Jackson (Boston, 1945), chaps. 12-24; John Ashworth, 'Agrarians' and 'Aristocrats': Party Political Ideology in the United States, 1837-1846 (London, 1983);Formisano, Transformation of Political Culture, chap. 12; and Sean Wilentz, Chants Democratic: New York City the and Rise of the American Working Class, 1788-1850 (New York, 1984).

6. There is no comprehensive study of the social thought of the Transcendentalists, but for recent valuable analyses of some of its aspects, see Taylor Stoehr, Nay-Saying in Concord: Emerson, Alcott, and Thoreau (Hamden, Conn., 1979); Rose, Transcendentalism as a Social Movement; and David S. Reynolds, Beneath the American Renaissance: The Subversive Imagination in the Age of Emerson and Melville (New York, 1988), chap.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 1, The Private Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years* (Oxford University Press, 1992), 310–311.

Shortened citation:

Capper, *Margaret Fuller*, 310–311.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.99

Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years

Charles Capper

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 108–109 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Yet for the moment, as Ripley also noted, the popular "separate spheres" conservatives were gaining the upper hand. The early 1840s brought an outpouring of novels, tracts, gift books, articles, stories, and poetry summoning women to assume their "true womanhood" of piety, submission, self-sacrifice, and domesticity. Arguably, the shrewdest was the widely read 1841 Treatise of Domestic Economy by Sarah Grimké's antiabolitionist opponent, the influential educator Catharine Beecher, who called for "professional" housewives, virtuous mothers, and moral schoolmistresses whose cross-class self-sacrifice would help usher in a national millennium of peace, prosperity, justice, and Christian love. Meanwhile, the feminist abolitionists seemed to be deserting the gender field. While Sarah Grimké (in an ironic bow to the power of domesticity) retired from antislavery work to help her sister raise her children, the Garrisonians, preoccupied with a new factional struggle against pro-electoral action "political abolitionists," virtually dropped the women's rights issue altogether. Then there was the limitation of Grimké's message her conservative Quakerism imposed.

Declaring she would depend "solely on the Bible to designate the sphere of woman," she appealed to a host of biblical "truths," including the fall of Adam and Eve, Christ's divinity, and the dangers of "heathenism," which hardly resonated with Unitarians, liberal Quakers, and Transcendentalists, who made up the majority of women's rights abolitionists, especially in Boston. Resting women's rights solely on an ethic of moral benevolence also weakened any claim on behalf of women's independent self-interest. Finally, Grimké and the "ultraist" Garrisonians' reduction of the gender question to moral equality and antislavery activism begged deeper gender questions, as Fuller had perceived in rebuffing Chapman. What was the nature of women's identity and psychology apart from their moral concerns? What was the right sort of education and culture for women? How could the abolitionists' claims of "benevolent womanhood" be reconciled with the notion of a gender-free moral sphere? What were the causes of female subordination? What was the best means of empowering women to act on their rights? What should the consequences of equal rights be for the institution of the family or work?

The women's rights abolitionists were not indifferent to these questions; privately they wrestled with them. But publicly they were generally silent. With Enlightenment feminism dormant, abolitionist feminism fading, and an antifeminist backlash growing, the gender scene was ripe for a fresh intervention.

Of course, to contemporary feminists, Fuller's initial interventions would seem to have their own deficiencies, starting with her resistance to mixing social reform with self-culture. In that respect, Fuller was not so far from Catharine Beecher: both sought to advance the intellectual autonomy of women without either calling for their political activity or challenging their social subordination, the only difference being that Beecher advanced her domestic-millennialist call on evangelical grounds while Fuller did so on liberal Romantic ones. Yet Fuller felt some discursive pressures that both Beecher and Grimké did not.

One was the spreading contagion of socialism. Fuller and her Transcendentalist colleagues were increasingly making room on their bookshelves for, along with German theologians, philosophers, and poets, French radicals like Charles Fourier, George Sand, Pierre Leroux, and the Saint-Simonians, whose works bristled with demands for radically restructuring women's role in the family and society and heralded the coming of the "divine woman." Another was the ideological convergence of various radical perfectionist reform circles, a merger that two and a half years ago at the Chardon Street Bible Convention Fuller had thought was "so forced." Transcendentalists, Fourierists, and

Garrisonian abolitionists, already linked together in Boston by their liberal religious backgrounds but now unmoored from their more moderate Unitarian, Whig, and antislavery communities, were starting to find in each other's ideas startling new compatibilities. Transcendentalists were coming out as socialists, abolitionists as Transcendentalists, and soon both, in the wake of the impending annexation of Texas, as militant antislavery politicos. And brooding behind all these shifts was the most loosely Romantic convergence of all: radical reformers were beginning to sacralize reform itself. The church principal, Emerson declared, was "falling from the Church nominal." However surely Fuller had begun with the idea of keeping reforming women's culture hermetically sealed off from social questions, those questions were seeping in from all sides.

Meanwhile, something similar was occurring in her little corner of the Transcendentalist world. That spring, undoubtedly stimulated by their exchanges over love and friendship, Fuller and Emerson had started discussing the "state & duties of Woman" in the writings of Sand and Pierre Leroux. Although nothing is known about what they said, their simple posing of the question was provocative—although from Emerson's point of view, less than satisfactorily. "As always, it was historically considered," he grumbled in his journal, "it had a certain falseness so. For to me today, Woman is not a degraded person with duties forgotten, but a docile daughter of God with her face heavenward endeavouring to hear the divine word & to convey it to me." Although the antifeminism of this remark has often been exaggerated (docility toward God, the forgetting of duties toward man, and a special capacity to communicate divine revelations were hardly the stuff of conventional gender ideology), it is also true that his own gendered face could incline to the conventionally utilitarian as easily as the spiritually antinomian. And Fuller noticed it. A month later, he carelessly wrote her, speaking of the Wards' new baby, "though no son, yet a sacred event." "Why is not the advent of a daughter as 'sacred' a fact as that of a son?" she chided him. "I do believe O Waldo, most unteachable of men, that you are at heart a sinner on this point. I entreat you to seek light in prayer upon it." Considering that he wrote in his journal his "docile daughter of God" entry on the same day he penned his paean to "Margaret" rising before him into "heroical & godlike regions," she could hardly have gotten a better lesson on the gap between heroic talk and unheroic gender practice in even liberal American intellectuals.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 2, The Public Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years* (Oxford University Press, 2007), 108–109.

Shortened citation:

Capper, *Margaret Fuller*, 108–109.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.100

American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism

Dean Grodzins

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Excerpt

Parker found Brook Farm attractive, but aside from low moments in □□□□ and □□□□, when he feared being forced from the ministry, he never seriously considered living there. Besides, he may have been aware early—and he certainly came to see over time—that commitment to Brook Farm was a risk, because the community faced constant threat of bankruptcy. He knew some of those who had advanced to Brook Farm its working capital. His neighbors George Russell and Francis Shaw were among them; Aunt Lucy, possibly with his encouragement, also had loaned a small sum. He himself took out a mortgage on a piece of Brook Farm property (in effect giving the community another loan) when he sent Georgie there. Parker must have realized before too long that Brook Farm was hard pressed to pay its debts. As the son of a farmer and artisan, Parker could have guessed the key reasons why: the soil on which the community struggled to grow its crops was sandy (the previous owner of the fields had been sensible enough to use them only for grazing milk cows), while the community craft shops were not well enough organized to turn a profit. In short, the "Brook Farm Institute for Agriculture and Industry," as it officially was known, succeeded neither agriculturally nor industrially. The only profitable enterprise associated with it was the school.

More important, Parker came to realize that he dissented from the Brook Farm approach to solving social ills. For one thing, Ripley and his friends were more skeptical than he about the justness of private property. Brook Farm members shared living quarters and eating space, and turned over the money made by their individual labors to the community. Ripley himself (who had told Parker in □□□□he favored the abolition of inherited private property) wanted to make these cooperative arrangements more thoroughgoing. He admired the proposal of the French socialist Fourier that everyone should live in tightly planned "Phalanxes," with little private ownership; eventually, he would try to turn Brook Farm into a Phalanx. By contrast, Parker believed strongly in private property, as he makes clear in an □□□□sermon, which he may have preached with the "Associationist" contingent of his congregation in mind. Some of them undoubtedly heard it.

Parker here specifically criticizes the idea, which he is careful to say has been advanced by "pious & philanthropic persons," that property should be held in common. Parker sees this proposal as a natural reaction of the heart against the excessive desire for gain in modern society. But he argues that

I Can Stand Alone □□□ private property is "an ontological fact, belonging to the Nature of man": man is a "hoarding animal"; mankind has a right to appropriate and hoard; the earth belongs to mankind; as mankind is made up of individuals, so property seems to belong to each individual. Parker's logic seems somewhat slippery, but for him, earning what you receive from life and paying as you go were strict moral imperatives.

How strict is evident in several other sermons, in which he denounces state debt repudiation as a grave political sin. The issue was an important one of the day. Many states, mostly in the South and West, had borrowed heavily during the speculative boom years of the early □□□□s, usually from English banks to pay for internal improvements. After the panic of □□□□, these states found themselves strapped to meet their repayment obligations. By the early □□□□s, a few states, in desperation, tried to repudiate at least part of what they owed. Some pro-repudiation politicians, all Democrats, argued that the debts were "held by rich and selfish foreign capitalists, who care for nothing so much as to wring money from the hard earnings of our people."103

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Grodzins, Dean. *American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Footnote citation:

Dean Grodzins, *American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism* (University of North Carolina Press, 2002), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Grodzins, *American Heretic*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.101

The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union

George M. Fredrickson

SELECTION	ONSERVATIVES IN A RADICAL AGE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 29–30 · Supplied edition: Harper & Row, 1965.

Excerpt

If the clergyman was not in a position to call Americans back to a traditional sense of community, it was still possible to conceive of a secular priesthood, a conservative intellectual class based on learning and culture. Elitist visions of this kind came naturally in New England where for generations there had been a definable group which had attempted to combine intellectual achievement and social leadership. This was the aristocracy that Oliver Wendell Holmes called "the Brahmin caste of New England"—the descendants of historic families which had long cherished scholarship and erudition and at the same time provided leaders in law, politics, and commerce.

The Brahmin intellectuals of the 1850s, however, were in a poor position to be the defenders of conservativism. Not only had their social and political power recently declined as the result of new wealth and the demand for a more democratic style of leadership, but even on the level of abstract thought they had little to offer. They found it hard to take sides in the debate on institutions because their instinctive conservatism on pressing social issues was accompanied by a philosophical and religious liberalism—an inherited penchant for Enlightenment ideas which hindered their embracing social organicism as an alternative to American individualism. Despite the fact that they had no use for egalitarian reform, they went at least part of the way with Emerson and Parker in rejecting revealed Christianity and other dogmas which had buttressed a conservative social order. Some of the younger Brahmins of the 1850s actually became disciples of Emerson and the transcendentalists and were deflected from their normal course as responsible citizens. But their transcendentalism was of an extremely individualistic variety which did not lead them into reform; its major effect was to add to the difficulty of finding a gentleman's vocation in a democratic age.

One Brahmin transcendentalist was Charles Russell Lowell, the nephew of James Russell Lowell. As a Harvard undergraduate in the early 1850s, Lowell found himself unable to resist the mysteries of self-culture, and his valedictory oration of 1854 repeated the doctrine of Emerson's "American Scholar' that high thinking and idealism are more important than practical activity. Lowell, however, did not become a hermit after graduation. Although a believer in the priority of thought, he remembered that Emerson had defined the American scholar as a man of action as well as "man thinking." In letters of 1855 and 1856, he acknowledged that while "'active life alone never made a man of anybody," he had always supposed that "action was necessary to complete my character.' When he came to realize that he was not a literary genius or a seer, the types that Emerson called "divine men," he decided that he would have to be one of the "heroes of the world'"—the other Emersonian type. He knew that "'the 'divine men'" have 'no need for work" but " 'Heroes' of the world have certainly needed work and had it and done it well, and it is Heroes that we must try to be."?°

In his effort to live according to the somewhat self-contradictory ideals of Emerson, Lowell was confronting directly a form of the transcendentalist problem of "double consciousness" or duality. How was he both to develop an inner life and play an "heroic" role in the world? His problem was compounded by the fact that America seemed to deny its heroic roles to members of Lowell's social class. He tried working as a common workman in an iron mill, acting as a kind of missionary to the workers, while at the same time preparing himself for a role in industry; but his health failed before he went very far in this direction. Then like so many young gentlemen of the time, he traveled extensively in Europe to recover from his illness. While there, he thought of taking up farming but was afraid that for some transcendental reason, it was "'not quite a 'life'.'" After his return from Europe in 1858, he went to Iowa as a

railroad agent, but found that 'The West may make a man strong, massy, rock-like— never large and generous and manly." By 1860, Lowell had still not found a vocation that combined self-culture with an active life. Part of his difficulty came from the lack of attractive positions for a young patrician in an egalitarian society, but equally important as a source of malaise was his Emersonian claim on the universe."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fredrickson, George M. *The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union*. New York: Harper & Row, 1965.

Footnote citation:

George M. Fredrickson, *The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union* (Harper & Row, 1965), 29–30.

Shortened citation:

Fredrickson, *The Inner Civil War*, 29–30.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.102

Understanding Emerson: "The American Scholar" and His Struggle for Self-Reliance

Kenneth S. Sacks

SELECTION	HAPTER
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 90–91 · Supplied edition: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

It was, in fact, only at Harvard where Emerson fulfilled his prophetic identity and his oath to speak candidly. In part motivated by a familiar audience and a familiar setting and in part to keep pace with friends who were so gifted in writing academic-style polemics, Emerson broke free from the constraints of lyceum oratory by evoking the tough language and forms of the revival and the jeremiad. Because, whether by design or fear, he wouldn't engage Harvard faculty in subtle philosophical disputes as had Ripley and Hedge, he introduced Transcendentalist thinking de¬ scriptively rather than analytically. Hedge had written about the necessity to synthesize the old and new ways, and Ripley and Brownson, as we'll see next, demanded that Transcendentalism stand in the service of social reform. To Emerson, the scholar ought to go where the heart leads: "Char¬ acter is higher than intellect. Thinking is the function. Living is the func¬ tionary.... A great soul will be strong to live, as well as strong to think." It was Emerson's refusal to be more specific that so annoyed his foes and disappointed his friends. But Emerson's scholar struck an honest balance between experiential learning and the constant revelation of Reason. That scholar could neither be produced by traditional university pedagogy nor serve some utilitarian purpose. The American scholar could be conjured but not defined.5

If Emerson would not or could not engage in the analytical aspects of the philosophical and theological debate between Transcendentalists and Unitarians, at least his sympathies were generally with his friends. But the question of social action, Brownson's third category that divided the Old and New Schools, also separated Emerson from many fellow Tran¬ scendentalists. The 1830s saw the rise of several movements designed to better humankind. Abolition, of course, led the way. Socialism, temper¬ ance, education of the physically handicapped, and anti-prostitution, di¬ etary, and public school reform were among the many other movements that, commented one observer of the Boston scene, "worked their way from street to street like an epidemic." Because social causes required a willingness to subordinate personal belief to the greater good, Emerson struggled awkwardly. We have seen how Emerson, worried about scaring off his lyceum audience, suppressed his desire to speak out. It was only after and because of "The American Scholar" that by fits and starts he learned to offer his support without feeling a loss of self—or of revenue. Others, who were from the beginning bolder, helped force Emerson to define his position.[54]

Of those closely aligned to Transcendentalism, Orestes Brownson was the most politically committed. His activism caused some Transcendentalists to shun him so that by the summer of 1837 he was no longer invited to club meetings. Brownson had little patience with the extreme religious idealism of Emerson, believing that part of Jesus's mission was to unite Catholic spiritualism and Protestant materialism. Transcendentalism, Brownson wrote in 1836, helped serve this purpose by unifying the mind and body. He hailed Emerson's Nature in the Boston Reformer "as a proof that the mind is about to receive a new and more glorious manifesta¬ tion," but worried that Emerson was retreating into the world of pure, self-referential thought: "To deny [the testimony of one's senses] is to set oneself afloat upon the ocean of universal skepticism."5

Brownson had quickly been befriended by George Ripley, who saw Brownson's liberal politics as a way to extend the New School to the poor. By March, 1837, while Emerson agonized over his own indeci¬ siveness, Ripley appreciated Brownson as a man of action: "Brownson is a true prophet, Heaven-anointed, and the age to come will build a regal tomb for him, though he is now stoned," he wrote Clarke. He later asked John Sullivan Dwight about a recent Brownson essay: "Can you show a finer piece of philosophical composition than his article on Transcenden¬ talism?"

Brownson, in a letter to George Bancroft, expressed similar re¬ spect for Ripley and did so publicly in the pages of his Boston Quarterly Review: “Mr. Ripley’s doctrine… rescues the mass from the power of the learned few, and places the truth of Christianity within the reach of every man.” Brownson praised Emerson and Alcott as well, but was care¬ ful to qualify his support and define areas of difference. He had greater affection and sympathy for Ripley and his more democratic views. Ripley that very year resigned his ministry, telling his congregation that he must follow the two dynamic movements in his life: Transcendentalism and social reform.

Author's Notes

52. Newspapers: JMN 2:95, 278-279; 3:26, 111-, 4:222; 5:284; EL 2:68; Ralph Waldo Emerson, “New Poetry,” in Essays and Lectures, ed. Joel Porte (New York: Library of America, 1983), 1169. Martineau, Society in America, 3:265; two dozen lectures: Turner, Charles Eliot Norton, 38; fretted about atten¬ dance: L 2:9, 171; fifty-minute format: JMN 5:286.

54. George P. Lathrop, “Literary and Social Boston,” Harper’s New Monthly Magazine 62 (February, 1881), 383.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: "The American Scholar" and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Kenneth S. Sacks, *Understanding Emerson: "The American Scholar" and His Struggle for Self-Reliance* (Princeton University Press, 2003), 90–91.

Shortened citation:

Sacks, *Understanding Emerson*, 90–91.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.103

Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform

Len Gougeon

SELECTION	The Silent Years
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 49–50 · Supplied edition: University of Georgia Press, 1990.

Excerpt

That the abolitionists had Emerson and "his" transcendentalists clearly in mind in such instances is suggested by Edmund Quincy's com¬ ment in a letter to a friend in 1841 regarding Theodore Parker's recent conversion to active abolitionism. "I do not know whether you have heard that Theodore Parker came out on Sunday before last with an Anti-Slavery sermon.... He has now recognized the A[nti]. S[lavery].

& N[on]. Resistance], movements as the Chief, if not the only, mani¬ festations of Christianity in the present age, without any Emersonian or Channingian qualifications [emphasis mine].[22]

In an earlier letter that describes the appearance of a group of the transcendental Brook Farmers (with whom Emerson was at times asso¬ ciated) at an abolition picnic, Quincy notes that none of them spoke at the affair and concludes, "I do not think we have anything to hope from them."2 Last, the association between Emerson and Channing, and their pernicious effect on the abolition movement, are described clearly in a draft article on Emerson that Maria Chapman prepared as late as 1844. "His [Emerson's] character being rather contemplative than active, at least according to popular acceptation of those words, he has been a philosophical speculator rather than a reformer. His wisdom has therefore made fools of some, & his naturalness [has] been the occasion of affectation in others. Hundreds of young persons have made him their excuse for avoiding the Anti Slavery battle & talking about the clear light; just as thousands have refused their aid to the cause because Dr. Channing wrote essays against associations."2

The entire question of the relationship of the transcendental and abo¬ lition movements is complex and resistant to generalizations, although many scholars have tried to discern it.[25] John Humphrey Noyes maintains that Brook Farm, the most famous experiment in living according to transcendental principles, "was the child of New England Unitarianism" and was suggested by Dr. Channing. He quotes Emerson as his source for this. Not surprisingly, because of the Unitarian/transcendental concern for universal rather than specific moral reform, the emphasis of aboli¬ tionism was seen by this group as myopic and undesirable.[26] While there were some abolitionists among the transcendentalists in the 1830s and early 1840s, the two were generally on divergent paths during this time, and there was often friction between them. Thus Lindsay Swift points out that when Frederick Cabot joined the transcendental community at Brook Farm in 1844 after being a member of the Massachusetts Anti¬ slavery Society, he was criticized for it by old abolitionist friends like Caroline Weston. Flis defensive response was that "while he loves the slave no less he loves humanity more."2

For some this friction would prove enduring. One of the better-known Brook Farmers, George Curtis, in a letter to a friend written some seven years after that famous experiment ended, refers to "the remembrance of Brook Farm & the thousand memories that consecrate that place." The tranquil tone of his letter soon changes, however, when the subject turns to "stiffnecked" reformers who fail to realize "that the landscape stretches backward as well as forward & that because they are doing one thing they are not fulfilling all." Specifically, Curtis relates that the day before, he had "read an AntiSlavery resolution denouncing as damned, all churches & ministers that do not entirely & openly condemn South¬ ern bondage." Curtis was outraged at this blanket condemnation and sadly observes that "these facts of AntiSlavery—& Slavery... cross the land, seeking whom they may devour, & their prey is the majority of men." For the former Brook Farmer, Americans in general and aboli¬ tionists in particular seemed to have forgotten, if they ever knew, that "the sum of wisdom is the knowledge that things have two sides."2

Author's Notes

22. Edmund Quincy to Caroline Weston, 9 February 1841, MS, Boston Pub¬ lic Library. Edmund Quincy (1808-77) was a Harvard graduate and the second son of Josiah Quincy, former president of Harvard. He joined the Massachusetts Anti-slavery Society in 1837, shocking his aristocratic peers, and eventually be¬ came vice president of the American Anti-slavery Society and was associated with several prominent antislavery publications.

25. For comments on specific works see chap. 10 of this volume.

26. Strange Cults and Utopias of 19th-Century America (1870; reprint. New York: Dover Publications, 1966), p. 104. 359 Index New England Anti-slavery Society, 88 New England Emigrant Aid Society, 217 Nisami, 149 Non-Resistance Movement, 49, 225 Norton, Andrews, 61 Nott, J. C., 181 Noyes, John Humphrey, 49 Palfrey, John Gorham, 22, 48, 93, 151, 156; Emerson campaigns for, 166-67, 170 Parker, Theodore, 6, 9, 50, 108, 127, 128, 143, 151, 167, 219, 246, 294; “Fast Day Sermon” (1851), 156; and Negroes, 182; and Anthony Burns, 200-201, 206, 214-15; and war in Kansas, 218, 223, 224; and John Brown, 229, 255, 258; and tribute to Emerson, 236; death, 258; Emerson memorial to, 259 Peabody, Elizabeth, 10, 14 Peace Party, 289 People’s Party, 286-90 Pendleton, George H., 307 Pennell, Richard (Earl of Lyons), 277 Persian poetry, 145 Personal Liberty Law (Massachu¬ setts), 153, 155, 158, 165 Phillips, Wendell, 4, 9, 16, 20, 45, 50, 64, 87, 118, 127, 140, 143, 219, 228,

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gougeon, Len. *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform*. Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1990.

Footnote citation:

Len Gougeon, *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform* (University of Georgia Press, 1990), 49–50.

Shortened citation:

Gougeon, *Virtue's Hero*, 49–50.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.104

American Transcendentalism: A History

Philip F. Gura

SELECTION	Heaven on Earth
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 165–166 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Excerpt

William Henry Channing's The Present znd Brisbane's '^The Phalanx, included Brook Farm among the experimental communities they praised, prompting Ripley to consider more formal association with the New York Fourierist wing, particularly so that he could solicit its wealthy backers.

Matters came to a head in late December, when Brook Farm sent representatives to a four-day convention of Friends of Social Reform at the Tremont Temple in Boston. Joining delegates from Ballou's Hopedale enterprise, the Northampton (Massachusetts) Association of Education and Industry (established by radical abo¬ litionists), and the Skaneateles Community from rural New York (also founded by abolitionists but distinctive in prohibiting private property) were most of New England's prominent reformers; Alcott. Garrison, Brownson, and the recently escaped slave Frederick Douglass (now lecturing for the Massachusetts Anti-Slavery Soci¬ ety), among others. Sensing that the time was right to win converts in New England, New York-based reformers like Brisbane, Greeley,

Parke Godwin, and William Henry Channing also attended. Ripley and others in the Brook Earm contingent returned to West Roxbury convinced that the community's success depended on its adoption of Eourier's economic principles, a transition they did not think would be that difficult. Shortly after the New Year, Ripley met with Brook Earm's shareholders to win approval for the plan. His task did not prove difficult, for the membership, whether or not they approved of the shift to Fourierism, understood the necessity of a change of direction.

In early January 1844 the community heard and approved a re¬ vised constitution and articles of agreement for what from that point on was called the Brook Farm Association for Industry and Education. The change reflected Ripley's decision to diversify the community's economy by taking in more craftsmen and laborers, which Greeley and Brisbane thought necessary but which irrevoca¬ bly changed its membership. The new constitution reflected Eourier's scheme for the reorganization of work: a General Direction (that is, a committee of oversight), a Direction of Einance, a Direction of Education, and a Direction of Industry, with the old units of Do¬ mestic Economy and Agriculture now subsumed into this last and termed merely a "Series," another shift in the community's priori¬ ties. With this reorganization of labor into "Series" and "Groups" (Fourier's terminology), the Brook Farmers demonstrated their commitment to Fourier's notion of "Attractive Industry." In the Agricultural Series, for example, there were groups for plowing, planting, weeding, hoeing, and so on; and Brook Farm also insti¬ tuted a Domestic Series and a Mechanical Series. One wit among them even proposed the "R. L. S. G.," the "rejected lover's sympa¬ thizing group.But other of the basic organizing principles did not change. Interest on one's investment remained at 5 percent, and all members were still guaranteed the necessities of life and the rights to personal property and to live in family units.

No American phalanx ever grew to anything near the size Fourier envisioned. Here the Brook Farmers, like other pioneer phalansterians, followed Brisbane's suggestion—in a series of arti¬ cles in the Democratic Review in 1842—that Fourier's principles could be put into operation in a four-hundred-member commu¬ nity.^® Brook Farm, which already had a division of and reward for labor similar to what Fourier counseled, was ideally situated and suited for such an experiment. When Ripley announced the reor¬ ganization and put out a call for more participants, applications for membership soared. Six months after the publication of the new constitution, eighty-seven applicants had joined the community; and after the two-month trial stipulated in the bylaws, fifty-eight, primarily laborers and artisans rather than farmers or intellectuals, were admitted as members and accommodated into new Groups and Series. Between May I and September 30, 1844, Brook Farm received one hundred more

applications. Clearly, the switch to As¬ sociation brought new attention to the West Roxbury experiment.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gura, Philip F. *American Transcendentalism: A History*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Philip F. Gura, *American Transcendentalism: A History* (Hill and Wang, 2007), 165–166.

Shortened citation:

Gura, *American Transcendentalism*, 165–166.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.105

The Transcendentalists and Their World

Robert A. Gross

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Excerpt

What was to be done? Concord was at an impasse, with local men hesitant or opposed to antislavery activism. If anything was to happen, the women would have to take the lead. The Grimké sisters pointed the way with their compelling rationale for female abolitionism and their principled defiance of masculine disapproval. And so, some sixty women overcame their trepidation and gathered in November 1837 to form the Concord Female Anti-Slavery Society (CFASS). Theirs was one of eight such groups founded that year in the Grimkés' wake. The Concord association belonged to a select minority in the Bay State. The great majority of antislavery societies were dominated by men; just a fifth—40 out of 221—were run by women. Far from being shamed by their wives and daughters, Concord's male leaders paid the new organization no mind. Its founding went unmentioned in the press; informally, it was "noticed but to be ridiculed," charter member Mary Brooks later recalled. The men did nothing on their own. They could establish one voluntary association after another to promote temperance, advance knowledge, and foster economic and social improvements, but no town-wide antislavery society ever sprang into action. Democrats and Whigs preferred to compete over economic issues and ignore the subject of slavery as much as possible, and when that proved impossible, they contended over whether and how to remove the scourge of human bondage from the nation's capital, restrict its expansion into the Western territories, and curb its reach in the supposedly free North. Abolitionism was not on their agenda; nor was it a top priority for any of the religious sects or even for the Transcendentalists. It was left to Concord's women and a minority of men to push for immediate emancipation in the South and equal rights for all citizens, regardless of race, right at home in Massachusetts.

And so it was with other social movements. Although men dominated the official leadership and controlled the public proceedings, women were the foot soldiers of reform. They signed temperance pledges in huge numbers; they contributed funds to women and children in need and to organizations aiding fugitive slaves; they pressed antislavery principles on lawmakers in massive petition campaigns to state and federal governments. Such action marked a bold declaration of the right of women to act on their own to promote religion, aid the poor and oppressed, and serve the Lord—even to shake up the social order. Ultimately, they would demand equal rights for themselves. In the 1830s and early 1840s social reform was a job not for the famous Transcendentalists of Concord but for their female kin—their mothers and aunts, sisters and wives.

The female antislavery society had precedent in Concord. It drew on the model and experience of the Concord Female Charitable Society, itself an innovative assertion of women's leadership at its founding in 1814. For more than two decades the "benevolent fair" of the town, led by wives of Social Circle members, had been assisting needy women and children. These errands of mercy were regarded as an extension of maternal care beyond the home. In reality, they expanded women's presence in the civic arena. The charitable society had given its members practical experience in running a voluntary association. It had adopted a formal constitution and bylaws, raised and spent funds, made investments, elected officers, and met annually in a public space to hear their reports. It was no stretch to apply this mode of action to the cause of the slave.

But that was to enter a realm fraught with politics and controversy. In Boston, New York, and Philadelphia, it was a step too far for the elite women at the helm of the leading charities. Not in Concord, where twenty-three founders of the antislavery society were alumnae of the charitable society and fifteen of the Trinitarian Ladies Sewing Society. These activists were no longer content to dispense alms to the Black and white poor; they aspired to strike at the roots of degradation and misery among African Americans close to home and on Southern plantations far away. If this effort required them to challenge existing ways, such as speaking and acting in public, so be it. As they saw it, this

was their moral and religious duty, free of partisan taint.

For all their challenge to convention, the charter members of the female antislavery society resembled their charitable predecessors. The typical founder was a wife and mother in her mid- to late thirties, approaching the end of her childbearing years. No longer caring for infants and toddlers, she could set aside an occasional afternoon and labor on behalf of the suffering slave. The cause was inclusive; the abolitionist sisterhood came from families prominent and obscure. Lidian Emerson was on the rolls, as was the sizable Thoreau clan: the matriarch Cynthia (whose mother had grown up in a slaveholding household before the Revolution), her sisters Sophia and Louisa Dunbar, her older daughter Helen, her sisters-in-law Elizabeth, Jane, and Maria Thoreau, and the two Prudence Wards boarding in her household. Mary Brooks and her daughter Caroline came from the heart of the Whig establishment, Maria Prescott from its Democratic counterpart. But elite support for abolitionism was thin. Only five members of the Social Circle had wives or daughters in the antislavery society; by contrast, nearly every married man in that exclusive club was united in wedlock to a “chattable.” The rank and file of the antislavery society belonged to the middling and laboring classes. The self-supporting tailoress Mary Minott, sister of the reclusive farmer George, joined in the founding. So did Susan Robbins Garrison, the only woman of color in the group. A sharp gap of class and race separated her from Maria Prescott, in whose fields Jack Garrison and his sons could often be seen laboring for a living. The antislavery society strove to blur, if not erase, that line. Soon after its debut, the group convened in the Garrisons’ new home in the onetime windmill off the river road.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gross, Robert A. *The Transcendentalists and Their World*. New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Robert A. Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World* (Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.106

American Reformers, 1815-1860

Ronald G. Walters

SELECTION	Heaven on Earth
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 51–52 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Excerpt

Transcendentalist Ralph Waldo Emerson agonized over whether to join Brook Farm and finally convinced himself (as he commonly did) that he was more valuable preserving his autonomy and remaining unaffiliated. He visited and observed Brook Farm with the same detachment his fellow Transcendentalist Margaret Fuller displayed when she spoke of going there to watch "the coral insects at work." When the influence of Transcendentalism was felt at Brook Farm, it was sometimes in the form of a thorny independence like Emerson's that weighed against the discipline essential to communal life. That was, nonetheless, part of Brook Farm's charm. It had room for playfulness, fads, odd attire, unfashionably bearded and long-haired men, and sweet eccentrics like Burrill Curtis, who, according to one account, "had been a model for a portrait of Christ." The motive of the original Brook Farmers, according to Elizabeth Peabody, was to be "wholly true to their natures as men and women." Those natures were deliciously varied and more Utopian than communitarian.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Footnote citation:

Ronald G. Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860* (Hill and Wang, 1997), 51–52.

Shortened citation:

Walters, *American Reformers, 1815-1860*, 51–52.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.107

Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia

Sterling F. Delano

SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004.

Excerpt

ae Ow nized an exhibition at Villanova University in 1991 to commemorate the 150th anniversary of the founding of the community. That prompted me to read through virtually all of the more than 300 articles and the dozen or more books that deal with one aspect or another of America's most renowned utopian experiment. It was quite an experience. Not one of the numerous resources, I quickly realized, provides anything like a comprehensive examination of Brook Farm. The "standard" treatment is still Lindsay Swift's Brook Farm: Its Members, Scholars, and Visitors, which was published more than a century ago. Even more surprising was the amount of misleading, contradictory, and flat-out incorrect information about the community found in many of the sources—a good deal of it, surprisingly enough, in the reminiscences of the Brook Farmers themselves. Brook Farm deserves better than this, especially since there continues to be such an enduring fascination with the community—no doubt inspired partly by the association with it of such prominent figures as Nathaniel Hawthorne, Ralph Waldo Emerson, and Margaret Fuller.

Clarity is all the more essential because Brook Farm grew out of the same cultural seedbed that gave rise to Transcendentalism, abolitionism, the workingmen's movement, the women's rights movement. and other manifestations of antebellum social reform in New England, activities in which many of the Brook Farmers themselves participated. (Colorful New York labor organizer Mike Walsh, the leader of a group of reformers known in the 1840s as the "Spartan Band," once characterized the Brook Farmers as "pious professors and Infidels, Fourierists, Abolitionists, Non-Resistants, etc.. etc.") Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia takes note of some of these reform programs along the way, but its real interest is in what early Brook Farmer Nathaniel Hawthorne later characterized as "the inner truth and spirit of the whole affair" Hawthorne hoped that Brook Farm's leaders—notably George Ripley, who founded the community and later achieved Frerace great prominence in New York City's journalistic world, or Charles Anderson Dana, Ripley's second-in-command, who afterward became the powerful owner and editor of the New York Sun—would one day document the community's internal drama, but neither of them ever did. No doubt the story was too painful to record for posterity. Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia is the first study to do so.

Since Brook Farm evolved out of the phenomenon known in New England in the 1830s as 'Transeenclentalism, it might be expected that one of George Ripley's Unitarian brethren would naturally have played the role of biographer and documented the community's history. Several of them, after all, followed Ripley to the village of West Roxbury in 1841 to build anew the ~city of God" on the 200-acre dairy farm that served as the site of the experiment. Others, like Theodore Parker and William Henry Channing, were intimately associated with the community at different stages of its six-year existence. Transcendentalists like Emerson. Orestes Brownson, Parker, and Channing, however, were never any more united in their support of Brook Farm than they had been in the religious and philosophical principles that they supposedly held in common m the 1830s. Brook Farm may be "the best representation of the social aspect of transcendentalism" (as one commentator has put it). but given the inconsistent and wavering support of those Transcendentalists associated with the community, it's probably more accurate to say that Brook Farm is the best representation of the amorphous nature of Transcendentalism itself. A history of the community is in fact nothing less than a record of the demise of that remarkable American cultural phenomenon that we refer to today as the Transcendental "movement."

There is nothing amorphous of course about Brook Farm's enduring importance in the history of American communal and utopian societies. It is one of the most interesting chapters in the rich and extensive record of that

tradition because the experiment occurred at the

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Delano, Sterling F. *Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Sterling F. Delano, *Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Delano, *Brook Farm*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.108

The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union

George M. Fredrickson

SELECTION	THE DOCTRINE OF LOYALTY
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 147–148 · Supplied edition: Harper & Row, 1965.

Excerpt

The divine right theory of loyalty was more than the key to a conservative theory of the state; it was also the basis of a generalized ""doctrine of institutions," such as the one proposed by Bellows before the war. This much was clear from Bushnell's claim that "loyalty" meant not only unqualified allegiance to the federal government but to all established institutions, especially the church and the family. The war gave impetus and direction to this kind of thinking and made it fashionable to condemn anti-institutional individualism in all its forms. The editors of Harper's, for example, now blasted away continually at the antiinstitutional "'doctrinaires.'" In January 1862, the inconsistency of the Garrisonian abolitionists, with their "charming doctrine of the power of just ideas to make their own way," was cited in the light of abolitionist support of the war with its inevitable "armies, navies, and fortresses." The military experience, it was claimed, brought ""discipline," and discipline suggested an acceptance of "government as a divine institution under all its forms, domestic, civil and religious."*

A year later, in January 1863, Harper's editorialized on "'Institutions and Men" and used the war as an occasion to defend institutions against "the individualism, the idealism, emotionalism, and revolutions that are sometimes arrayed against them." The time was deemed ripe for denying categorically the Emersonian notion that the isolated man has an importance apart from his participation in the organic life of the community, and much was made of the fact that "individuals are almost powerless unless they can come together under the auspices of institutions." The article concluded with the assertion that 'the whole history of individualism, whether of the emotional or mystical school, strengthens our faith in institutions, and makes us less and less inclined to think ideas, feeling or impulses, a sufficient guide to a community." The meaning of the Civil War was summed up in the description of the Northerners as "loyal champions of institutions."*®

If the wartime "'loyalty" of 1863 and 1864 implied a vindication of "the doctrine of institutions,' where did this leave Walt Whitman and his belief that the patriotic feeling of the American people was an anti-institutional force and a fulfillment rather than a repudiation of the prewar faith in the ability of "ideas, feeling or impulses" to guide the community? As the war dragged on, Whitman grew increasingly uneasy. He became uncertain about 'the value of mere "patriotism" and deeply concerned about the "discipline" which seemed to be teaching subordination to hierarchical organizations to an American citizenry which had once believed so strongly in a full measure of freedom and equality. By 1863, in fact, Whitman was fully aware that the schooling of the nation in military discipline was one result of the conflict that would never fit into his view of the war as a saturnalia of democracy. He made this clear when he tried to interest a publisher in a book of sketches which would promulgate the idea that "our national military system needs shifting, revolutionizing & made ready to tally with democracy, the people— The officers should almost invariably rise from the ranks—there is an absolute want of democratic spirit in the present system & officers—it is the feudal spirit exclusively—nearly the entire capacity, keenness & courage of our army are in the ranks."*° It was no more appropriate for the democratic army to be led by an officer caste than for the democratic electorate to be managed by a class of professional politicians. For Whitman, a citizen army should be held together by a spirit of comradeship, not by subordination and discipline.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fredrickson, George M. *The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union*. New York: Harper & Row, 1965.

Footnote citation:

George M. Fredrickson, *The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union* (Harper & Row, 1965), 147–148.

Shortened citation:

Fredrickson, *The Inner Civil War*, 147–148.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.109

Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance

Kenneth S. Sacks

SELECTION	SELF-RELIANCE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 67–68 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

Here Emerson extended the limits of self-reliance and linked freedom with commitment. But a year later, he cautioned himself about going further. Reflecting on the public debate around “The American Scholar” and the Divinity School address, he asked: “Why need you rail, or need a biting criticism on the Church & the College to demonstrate your holiness & your intellectual aims? Let others draw that inference which damns the institutions if they will. Be thyself too great for enmity & fault-finding.” Having attacked with unbridled passion the church and the college, Emer¬ son then withdrew from the resulting controversy. Emerson believed that continuing his assault on what were, after all, bis church and bis college would make him even more dependent on both institutions. Protecting what he perceived to be his self-reliance, he failed to consider that his words had further emboldened his friends, whom by his subsequent si¬ lence he abandoned.[43]

Emerson compromised his intellectual freedom by being selectively can¬ did. Avoiding conflict in the lyceum, the place where he made his living, was an uncomfortable concession to practicality. Bringing that conflict to Harvard and Concord, the institutions and people to which he was teth¬ ered, was an equally uncomfortable compromise of his self-reliance. There was a side of Emerson that always strove to be ethereal, bodiless: “I believe that I shall some time cease to be an Individual, that the eternal tendency of the soul is to become Universal.” Around the time of his Phi Beta Kappa oration, however, he chose not incorporeal contemplation, but action. To extol and demonstrate the self-reliance of the scholar, he himself had to be less self-reliant. A year later, Emerson felt unable to pay the price. He needed to be involved with, but ultimately detached from, others. As we saw in the last chapter, a large reason for his engagement at Harvard had to do with his immediate anger at his alma mater. But other forces were at work as well. In the next chapter, we’ll consider Emer¬ son’s complex relationship to his Transcendental colleagues in the shaping of “The American Scholar.”4

LOOKING BACK A CENTURY AND A HALF, EMERSON’S ENORmous influence on American letters and thought may seem obvious. As a result, Transcendentalism is almost inevitably interpreted through his eyes alone, with virtually every entry in reference works on Transcendentalism acknowledging his prominence. Because he commanded so great a pres¬ ence, there were in his lifetime and certainly are in posterity several Emer¬ sons. The public Emerson of the essays is a powerful, searching figure striv¬ ing for exceptional candor and self-reliance. As dominating as that persona may seem, in private Emerson could be insecure and heavily dependent on others. His friends played an important role in his decision to speak out. They served to shame him into action; by their own example, they helped define what he didn’t want to say; and they made him desire a kind of recognition they would never give him. Emerson’s relations with other Transcendentalists formed an essential aspect of his imperfect struggle for self-reliance and his decision to risk so much in “The American Scholar.”

Emerson s troubled dealings with friend and mentor Frederic Henry Hedge illustrate his complex relations with colleagues. Son of a Harvard professor, Henry had as a youth gone with George Bancroft to study in Germany as part of the first wave of Americans receiving European train¬ ing. A few years after graduating from the Divinity School, Hedge took a pulpit in Bangor, Maine, a decision with which he was never fully satisfied.

Author's Notes

43. Free should the scholar be: AS 140; why need you rail: JMN 7:200.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Kenneth S. Sacks, *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003), 67–68.

Shortened citation:

Sacks, *Understanding Emerson*, 67–68.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.110

Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance

Kenneth S. Sacks

SELECTION	SELF-RELIANCE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 67–68 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

Here Emerson extended the limits of self-reliance and linked freedom with commitment. But a year later, he cautioned himself about going further. Reflecting on the public debate around “The American Scholar” and the Divinity School address, he asked: “Why need you rail, or need a biting criticism on the Church & the College to demonstrate your holiness & your intellectual aims? Let others draw that inference which damns the institutions if they will. Be thyself too great for enmity & fault-finding.” Having attacked with unbridled passion the church and the college, Emer¬ son then withdrew from the resulting controversy. Emerson believed that continuing his assault on what were, after all, bis church and bis college would make him even more dependent on both institutions. Protecting what he perceived to be his self-reliance, he failed to consider that his words had further emboldened his friends, whom by his subsequent si¬ lence he abandoned.[43]

Emerson compromised his intellectual freedom by being selectively can¬ did. Avoiding conflict in the lyceum, the place where he made his living, was an uncomfortable concession to practicality. Bringing that conflict to Harvard and Concord, the institutions and people to which he was teth¬ ered, was an equally uncomfortable compromise of his self-reliance. There was a side of Emerson that always strove to be ethereal, bodiless: “I believe that I shall some time cease to be an Individual, that the eternal tendency of the soul is to become Universal.” Around the time of his Phi Beta Kappa oration, however, he chose not incorporeal contemplation, but action. To extol and demonstrate the self-reliance of the scholar, he himself had to be less self-reliant. A year later, Emerson felt unable to pay the price. He needed to be involved with, but ultimately detached from, others. As we saw in the last chapter, a large reason for his engagement at Harvard had to do with his immediate anger at his alma mater. But other forces were at work as well. In the next chapter, we’ll consider Emer¬ son’s complex relationship to his Transcendental colleagues in the shaping of “The American Scholar.”4

LOOKING BACK A CENTURY AND A HALF, EMERSON’S ENORmous influence on American letters and thought may seem obvious. As a result, Transcendentalism is almost inevitably interpreted through his eyes alone, with virtually every entry in reference works on Transcendentalism acknowledging his prominence. Because he commanded so great a pres¬ ence, there were in his lifetime and certainly are in posterity several Emer¬ sons. The public Emerson of the essays is a powerful, searching figure striv¬ ing for exceptional candor and self-reliance. As dominating as that persona may seem, in private Emerson could be insecure and heavily dependent on others. His friends played an important role in his decision to speak out. They served to shame him into action; by their own example, they helped define what he didn’t want to say; and they made him desire a kind of recognition they would never give him. Emerson’s relations with other Transcendentalists formed an essential aspect of his imperfect struggle for self-reliance and his decision to risk so much in “The American Scholar.”

Emerson s troubled dealings with friend and mentor Frederic Henry Hedge illustrate his complex relations with colleagues. Son of a Harvard professor, Henry had as a youth gone with George Bancroft to study in Germany as part of the first wave of Americans receiving European train¬ ing. A few years after graduating from the Divinity School, Hedge took a pulpit in Bangor, Maine, a decision with which he was never fully satisfied.

Author's Notes

43. Free should the scholar be: AS 140; why need you rail: JMN 7:200.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Kenneth S. Sacks, *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003), 67–68.

Shortened citation:

Sacks, *Understanding Emerson*, 67–68.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.111

American Transcendentalism: A History

Philip F. Gura

SELECTION	American Transcendentalism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 210–211 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Excerpt

Emerson's courteous if somewhat tongue-in-cheek advice on how to initiate social change provided an answer of sorts. He began by noting how New England recently had witnessed manifold signs that the impulse to reform society had fallen away from "the church nominal" and had reappeared in various societies (like that at Amory Street) composed of "ultraists, of seekers, of all the soldiery of dis¬ sent."^ Without a touch of irony he listed the more unusual initia¬ tives—dietary and agricultural reform of the sort instituted at Bronson Alcott's Eruitlands, for example, as well as assaults on the institution of marriage (with Fourier's speculations in mind). To these he added homoeopathy, hydropathy, mesmerism, and phrenology. Beyond the "petulance" and "puerility" of such efforts, Emerson saw greater problems.

In the reformers' haste to do away with the old, he observed, they often did not adequately prepare "to affirm and to construct," for they were satisfied to eradicate an evil without consideration of what should take its place. "Society gains nothing whilst a man, not himself renovated," attempts to renovate things around him, with the "disgusting result" of vanity or hypocrisy. Further, to be swept up too exclusively in one category of reform could make an individ¬ ual morally obtuse. Emerson was adamant about the ill effects of such "partiality." To focus solely on one moral evil elided the fact that "the wave of evil washes all our institutions alike," so that one could not afford to waste one's time in such exclusive attacks. "The street is as false as the church, and when I get to my house," he con¬ tinued, or to my manners, or to my speech, I have not got away from the lie."^

Just as problematic as this moral obliquity and partiality was the reformers' increasing reliance on "association" to combat social in¬ justice, the approach Hedge, Ripley, and others advocated. Emer¬ son applauded such intentions, admitting that Brook Farm and the Northampton Association of Education and Industry were com¬ prised of "men and women of superior talents and sentiments." Over time, however, he feared that the communities might become asylums for those who had "tried and failed" in the world. Friend¬ ship and association were fine, as long as one realized "that no so¬ ciety can ever be so large as one man." In relying too much on others, a person becomes a fraction of himself There simply can be "no concert in two," Emerson declared, "where there is no concert in one."^

Here is the heart of Emerson's belief about reform; only after an individual experiences the paradise within can he join with others, similarly enlightened, to restore the outer paradise. Only then would institutions, comprised as they were of discrete individuals, change. Admittedly, men and women at work together appeared to accomphsh more when they met as equals. But reform remained only cosmetic unless this union was "inward." It did not consist merely in external covenant, for those who banded together in an imperfect state were, on all sides, "cramped and diminished" in proportion. "The union," he concluded, "must be ideal in actual individualism."'^

This belief in radical individualism, articulated so powerfrilly in Emerson's Essays (1841) and Essays, Second Series (1844), was at the heart of his Transcendentalism. In "New England Reformers," the final essay in his second volume, he reiterated his profoundly dem¬ ocratic sense that "the net amount of man and man does not vary."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gura, Philip F. *American Transcendentalism: A History*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Philip F. Gura, *American Transcendentalism: A History* (Hill and Wang, 2007), 210–211.

Shortened citation:

Gura, *American Transcendentalism*, 210–211.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.112

The Imperial Self: An Essay in American Literary and Cultural History

Quentin Anderson

SELECTION	The Imperial Self
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 30–31 · Supplied edition: Alfred A. Knopf, 1971.

Excerpt

Time, providence, and society were real for Emerson's contemporaries; they eased the pains of a selfhood so iso¬ lated that it might be called antinomian by reference to the compelling needs of the time, and the definition of these needs was carried on in the Examiner and elsewhere as part of a discussion of current European works in litera¬ ture, history, philosophy, and theology. For these men there was a continuing context in which such discussion was not only possible but imperative. The familiar distinc¬ tion in Emersonian scholarship between Emerson and such "reforming" transcendentalists as Theodore Parker is quite insufficient to describe the importance of this split. Emerson held out against a powerful current of thought: he would not be involved in time, he was not a member of a generation. Almost as if social space had been appropri¬ ated as the scene of a designated range of experience, and time by an ultimately Christian view of an hurrying provi¬ dence, Emerson turned to "nature." His contemporaries, those who were best prepared to sympathize with him, saw institutions as passing but necessary shadows of what welled out of the self; Emerson saw them as fatal to it. In him alone was the social voice stilled in his great years. I do not mean that he had no impulse to find an audience— far from it—but he did not conceive of that audience as needing guidance in framing new institutions, utopian or other.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Anderson, Quentin. *The Imperial Self: An Essay in American Literary and Cultural History*. New York: Knopf, 1971.

Footnote citation:

Quentin Anderson, *The Imperial Self: An Essay in American Literary and Cultural History* (Alfred A. Knopf, 1971), 30–31.

Shortened citation:

Anderson, *The Imperial Self*, 30–31.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.113

The Transcendentalists and Their World

Robert A. Gross

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Supplied edition: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Excerpt

Not everyone was so enamored of Emerson or his influence over youth. In July 1840 the long-suffering Parson Frost delivered an unusually "animated" sermon against such "humbugs" as abolitionism and "Emersonianism." Then on April 19, 1843, the minister renewed the attack in a lecture, "The True Principles of Reform." Speaking near the end of the series that had featured so many calls for root-and-branch change, Frost charted a middle way between the poles of conservatism and radicalism. Both positions, in his opinion, fell victim to the same error of clinging rigidly to abstractions. The "ultra conservative" equated the "imperfect institutions" of the present with "immutable truth & justice & love" and would not alter them one whit; the "ultra reformer" held current arrangements up against the ideal model in his head and would accept nothing less than a perfect fit. Each perspective purported to be the only solution to the world's ills. Frost wrestled with the dilemma of choice. He was "afraid to oppose the ultra reformer, lest he should oppose all reforms," and "slow to oppose the ultra conservative lest he should encourage the revolutionary spirit of the radicals." What was this anxious moderate to do? Triangulating between extremes, the minister discovered "the true principle of reform" in "improvement": "It is not casting away the past, but proved by experience, matured wisdom, and adding our experience to it."

Despite his claim to be evenhanded, Frost skipped over the conservatives and trained his sights on reformers of all sorts, past and present, in church, society, and state. From the early Christians to the Protestant Reformation, and thence through the English, American, and French revolutions down to his own time, the advocates of change were prone to "separate [and] shut themselves up in their peculiar ideas, & deny all truth in others." The president of Concord's Total Abstinence Society was well aware of the intolerance and infighting in the "great Benevolent enterprises of the day." He was especially disturbed by the do-gooders who declined to engage with their neighbors and withdrew into enclaves of the like-minded. Come-outers deserted the churches, particularly Frost's own; nonresisters refused allegiance—and taxes—to government; the "community people" at Brook Farm turned their backs on a corrupt world to create their own Eden.

Then, Frost continued, there were the alienated young for whom Waldo Emerson advocated. In the January 1843 issue of The Dial, the Concord author had published his lecture "The Transcendentalist," which had debuted in his 1841–1842 series "The Times." The piece presented a sympathetic portrait of youthful idealists so put off by the shallowness and selfishness, the dishonesty and insincerity of everyday life that they could not bring themselves to join in the work of the world. Conventional callings were beneath them. Better to retreat into solitude, "ramble in the country," and wait for something worthy of their talents and ambitions. If these dissidents were neither "good citizens" nor "good members of society," if they declined to vote, if they did not "willingly" contribute to charities and aid benevolent causes, so be it. Emerson held out hope that one day "the good and wise" would realize their genius and "carry salvation to the combatants and demagogues in the dusty arena" of daily existence. This prophetic minority would, in the end, serve society "by speaking for thoughts and principles not marketable or perishable." They were the caretakers of the highest ideals.

Frost could hardly believe what he read. Here was "something new under the sun": a select society of superior souls deliberately withholding their contributions to "the cause of improvement" and doing so "out of a misguided principle." To his astonishment, such self-indulgence was being defended in print by a fellow minister whose name he did not deign to mention. Having long suffered the criticisms of Emerson and his supporters, Frost struck back, and he did so donning the mantle of Ezra Ripley. Everyone, he insisted, belonged to the community, with an obligation to the collective good. Nobody lived alone. That was as true for the Transcendentalists as for everyone else.

Far from waiting for the world to come around to them, these “men of purer fire” had a duty “to convey the Heavenly spark” they alone apprehended “to the cold & inert bodies around them.” The field of labor was immense, the need nearly inexhaustible: “Can it be possible that any can want work in a world like this, where the drunkard lies weltering in the gutter, the poor stretching out their hand at the corner of every street? where Education, government, religion all call for reform & new life?” Surely the rarefied spirits Emerson admired would not be so selfish as to turn away from their neighbors in need.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gross, Robert A. *The Transcendentalists and Their World*. New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Robert A. Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World* (Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Gross, *The Transcendentalists and Their World*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.114

The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America

Sacvan Bercovitch

SELECTION	Rites of Assent
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 308–309 · Supplied edition: Routledge, 1992.

Excerpt

Pierre Glendinning and Hester Prynne are classic fictional representations, negative and positive, of the "traditions of Ameri¬ can individualism" that link Francis Fukuyama, fames Atlas, and Irving Howe. I have argued that those traditions build upon a complex symbolic-ideological system, involving a distinctive myth of history (predicated on the American Way "as the final form of human government"), a nationwide ritual of generational renewal and rededication, and a theory of pluralist interpretation that simultaneously empowers and constrains the self. In this chapter I focus on two journal passages by Ralph Waldo Emerson, the central philosopher of American individualism, whose major essays have become the locus classicus of American dissent. In part my purpose is broadly historical, to describe the confrontation between socialist and liberal ideologies in Jacksonian America. In part it is specific to Emerson, and what I take to be a decisive shift in his thought. Still another part, pertaining to the ambiguities that redeem Hester and undo Pierre, has to do with the dynamics of oppositionalism in liberal culture at large.

The first of the two journal entries, recorded in late November or early December 1842, seems to have come in response to the utopian socialist schemes which had just eventuated in the found¬ ing of Brook Farm. It marks Emerson's first use of the term with which he has been most closely identified and, more largely, the first formulation of radical individualism in the modern world: This brief passage may be read as an index to the development of the concept of individualism in Jacksonian America. To begin with, it reminds us that that development was not intrinsic to liberal discourse, but on the contrary grounded in the European socialist attack on free enterprise; that in fact "individualism" was coined in the 1820s by French radicals such as Pierre Leroux to signify "the vice of the age," by which they meant the source of the various evils that characterized the "modern bourgeois order": "ruthless exploitation," "civil anarchy," "spiritual root¬ lessness," "infinite fragmentation," "heartless competitive... attitudes," "social atomization," "confusion of interests," "mean egoism."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bercovitch, Sacvan. *The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America*. New York: Routledge, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Sacvan Bercovitch, *The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America* (Routledge, 1992), 308–309.

Shortened citation:

Bercovitch, *The Rites of Assent*, 308–309.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.115

Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life

Stanley M. Elkins

SELECTION	hapter 3. Sin, Guilty Innocence, and Reform
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: University of Chicago Press, 1959.

Excerpt

"What is a man born for," he insisted, "but to be a Reformer, a Re-maker of what man has made; a renouncer of lies; a restorer of truth and good, imitating that great Nature which embosoms us all...?"

Such expressions were indicative of a phenomenon which was becoming noticeably widespread. It was apparent by the mid-

1830*5—with the appearance of Transcendentalism, of abolitionism, of the reform-conscious Jacksonian "workingmen's parties"— that America was entering an extraordinary period of reform. The drive, momentarily halted with the panic and depression of the late thirties, burst forth once more in the forties in a veritable fury of reform projects of every imaginable sort—temperance, millenarianism, perfectionism, spiritualistic Shakerism, utopianism, pacifism. It could probably be said that much of the aggression which such activities surely generated found its satisfaction in the splurge of Manifest Destiny and war with Mexico in the middle and late forties, for by the 1850^ a great number of the reform schemes so absorbing a few years earlier had lost their vitality. By then the field was vacated, so far as most people were concerned, to a single reform preoccupation—antislavery. That movement, present in some form since the early thirties and inflamed rather than alleviated by the exertions of the Mexican War, grew to formidable proportions in the i850's.

The point being examined here is the relationship of intellect to the questioh of slavery in the United States from the 1830^ on. It has been asserted, with regard to the functioning of intellect in culture at large, that a state of vital tension among the institutions of that culture makes a very great difference in the focus or lack of focus which its intellectual activity is to have. Some sort of daily orientation to institutions seems to be needed for the thinker to develop a sensitivity to the terms upon which they are main-

"Man the Reformer," in Wor\s, I, 221, 223-24. Ibid., p. 236. tained (and, conversely, subverted); only thus are questions of power and social policy likely to take on for him a quality of concreteness. It has been further asserted, by way of example, that the most notable intellectual expression of the logo's and 1840^ in the United States—Transcendentalism—was quite unable in this respect to "transcend" its culture and its age at all: that, far from "revolting" against the age, Transcendentalism embodied in aggravated form certain of its most remarkable features—its anti-institutionalism, its individual perfectionism, its abstraction, and its guilt and reforming zeal. Moreover, the intellectual features of the reform movement most relevant to this inquiry— abolitionism—very strikingly duplicated those very features just enumerated, particularly guilt and its counterpart, moral aggression.

But before spelling this out, it will be necessary to make a final digression in order to give some special attention to the lastnamed of these qualities—social guilt and its various adjuncts. Reform movements in the United States appear to have been given a unique character by reason of the special part played in them by guilt; we should therefore examine some of the conditions which have typically made reform movements possible in this country.

It should in the first place be recognized that in the history of American reform no direct correlation can be found between the extent of any given social evil and the intensity of the reform activity directed against it. It is frequently to be observed that some of the most notorious of abuses have been allowed to go unchallenged while others comparatively superficial may be attacked with inordinate energy, or that continuing ills may have been ignored at one time and ferociously denounced at another. Something more than the mere existence of such ills is therefore

needed to explain the action which they may evoke.

John W, Ward, in "Two Versions of Individualism" (a paper read at the 1957 meeting of the American Historical Association), pointed out the very close resemblance between the popular thought of the Jacksonian era and the leading ideas of the Transcendentalists. "The body of assumptions made explicit in Emerson's thought," he said, "are implicit in contemporary political theory, religious thought, and the celebration of the Old Hero, Andrew Jackson himself." Thorcau's Walden, Professor Ward added, "can stand for us as a kind of cultural metaphor, expressing an emotion that had a deep hold on the imagination of die time."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Elkins, Stanley M. *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1959.

Footnote citation:

Stanley M. Elkins, *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life* (University of Chicago Press, 1959), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Elkins, *Slavery*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.116

Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia

Sterling F. Delano

SELECTION	Beginning of the End
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 281–282 · Supplied edition: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004.

Excerpt

England labor movement.

Brook Farm at the beginning of 1845, Dut i as fond as he became of

Roxbury Association. Like Ryckman, he was more interested in organizing the burgeoning ranks of New England workingmen. One of the towns in which Allen and his fellow Brook Farmer John Orvis had stopped during their two-man lecture tour in the winter of 1845-1846 was Lowell, Massachusetts. Associationists, Carl Guarneri has noted,

[19] Both Ripley and William Henry Channing had also appeared there in March 1846 as the Lowell Female Labor Reform Association, and Channing and Al-

Lowell Women's Association. Allen decided that this was a good moment to break with Brook Farm. He took editorial control of the struggling Voice ofIndustry, until now the official organ of the New England Workingmen's Association, and almost immediately turned the paper over to the Lowell

Lowell Union of Associationists, making it in the process an affiliate of the American Union of Associationists. That work accomplished, Aldidn't have many opportunities to do so because he now was an agent for the AUA.

The once common threads that had held the Brook Farmers together in 1844 and 1845 may have not been the strongest, but nonetheless most conspicuous leaders found themselves marching to the beat of their own different drummers: Louis Ryckman to the National Reform Association; George Ripley and John Allen to the AUA; and Charles Dana to the Boston Chronotype. And while William Henry Charming at Brook Farm. The defection of Brook Farm's leaders meant that the

On September 10, 1846, Bronson Alcott's friend Charles Lane re-

They apply to the N[orth] Afmerican] Phalanx, but there is no room [21] The exodus from the community had really begun, howfor them."

Author's Notes

19. Guarneri, The Utopian Alternative: Fourierism in Nineteenth-Century America (Ithaca, N.Y.: Cornell University Press, 1991), 303.

21. Clara Endicott Sears, Bronson Alcott's Fruitlands (Boston: Houghton, Mifflin, 1915), 140-141.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Delano, Sterling F. *Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004.

Footnote citation:

Sterling F. Delano, *Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia* (Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004), 281–282.

Shortened citation:

Delano, *Brook Farm*, 281–282.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.117

The Quest for Nationality: An American Literary Campaign

Benjamin T. Spencer

SELECTION	Nationality Through Region and Locale (1815-1892)
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 269–270 · Supplied edition: Syracuse University Press, 1957.

Excerpt

the sectional and the national literary principle. If before the 1830's they placed a premium on the use of Southern themes, they did so not so much to enhance their section as to give authenticity to its literary work. Even when the Southern Review (1828) appeared, it was acclaimed not as a sectional instrument but as a medium of literary interchange with all sections "of our happy country"; and when a few years later the major literary organ of the section, the Southern Literary Messenger (1834), was inaugurated, its editor James E. Heath bespoke the literary aid of his "northern and eastern brethren" and assured them that the appearance of his journal did not presuppose "any unkind feelings" toward Southern literature on the part of "the aristarchy [sic] of the north and east." Indeed some editors, like W. C. Richards of the Orion, even in the 1840's were so alert to the misunderstandings implicit in the term "Southern literature" that they preferred to use the phrase "literature in the South," or frequently "a literature at the South." But whatever the terminology, Southern editors until mid-century were generally explicit in their policy of delivering the South from literary "vassalage" and, at the same time, keeping it an integral part of the national literary design.

As mid-century approached, this editorial profession of loyalty to the cause of both an American and a Southern literature was sustained by the two most prominent writers of the section, Poe and Simms. Poe wished a Southern literary independence from the North as he wished an American literary independence from England only in order to free the individual author to follow his own course toward "originality." "We are embarked in the cause of Southern Literature," he wrote on behalf of the Messenger in 1836, "and (with perfect amity to all sections) wish to claim especially as a friend and co-operator, every Southern Journal." Poe's own "amity" with most of the New England writers was, of course, short-lived; but the several breaches with Lowell, Longfellow, and the Transcendentalists were usually personal rather than sectional in origin; and when they did at times involve Southern literature as a whole, they rarely related to the political aspects of Southern literature. When he attacked Margaret Fuller's essay on American literature as "a silly and conceited piece of Transcendentalism," and when he accused Lowell and his "set" of affecting a belief that there was "no such thing as Southern Literature," he was not advancing a Southern point of view but rather protesting what he regarded to be the impingement of a zealous and arrogant sectionalism on the privileges of the American imagination.

Simms, like Poe, sought an American literature free from British domination and a Southern literature independent of New England critical doctrines. But with this independence, Simms thought, both a national and sectional literature were responsible for reflecting the "moral aims" and "political achievements" of the area from which they sprang. Hence Simms became the ardent exponent of both an organic American and an organic Southern literature, and he reconciled the two on the principle of a literary confederacy. Subsumed under the broad scope of universal values were the distinctive cultural modes of nations, he supposed, and subsumed in turn under the American national character were the peculiar emphases of the several sections. As distinctive national cultures were the channels toward the universal, so the aggregate of the sections constituted the national. When, in the decade before the Civil War, Simms judged Southern interests to be short-weighted in the national scale, he became the proponent of a Southern literature wherein the moral and political aims were not merely distinct from but also antithetic to those of other sections. Yet most of his long editorial and critical career was spent on behalf of an American rather than a Southern literature, and in his sustained effort for a national literature he attacked British criticism,

encouraged native writers, suggested native themes, campaigned for a copyright law, and through a varied fiction exemplified his own theory of an American romance. In this double allegiance to a sectional and national literature, many of his prominent compatriots joined. Simms's editorial associate, James W. Simmons, the editor of the Southern Review, Hugh Legaré, and the mid-century editor of the Messenger, John R. Thompson, for all their sectional loyalty, were for the most part concerned that the South not fail to contribute her share to a national utterance distinctively American.

Within the framework of this inclusive interest in American literature as a whole, the campaign for a Southern literature recapitulated on a smaller scale the stages of the campaign for a national literature begun after the Revolution. Southerners with a lingering neoclassic taste desired only a Southern Dryden or Pope to sing of Nature and

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Spencer, Benjamin T. *The Quest for Nationality: An American Literary Campaign*. Syracuse, NY: Syracuse University Press, 1957.

Footnote citation:

Benjamin T. Spencer, *The Quest for Nationality: An American Literary Campaign* (Syracuse University Press, 1957), 269–270.

Shortened citation:

Spencer, *The Quest for Nationality*, 269–270.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.118

Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years

Charles Capper

SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Excerpt

I have written this biography of Fuller, then, on one level as an act of historical recovery. To accomplish this I have gone back to the sources. These include not only her letters and journals, which have never been used before in any extensive or accurate way, but also the voluminous papers of her family, friends, and colleagues. My purpose has been three-fold. First, I have simply wanted to get the facts straight. This is no small matter. Most biographers of Fuller have freely reproduced "facts" based on legends, claims of previous biographers, and, in several cases, sentimentally imagined scenes. By contrast, all my factual assertions, unless otherwise indicated in a note, are derived from critically examined, firsthand sources. Second, I have tried to do justice to Fuller's complex personality. "What a Sphynx is that girl!" burst out one day in his journal James Freeman Clarke, who had known Fuller intimately and often encountered her daily for a decade, "who shall solve her?"
I do not pretend to have solved her, but I have tried to understand her, especially the practical and hyperemotional sides to her character, which in virtually all Fuller biographies are selectively privileged. Third, I have used my sources to create a social biography. My text is filled, as Fuller's life was, with people, many famous, many obscure, but almost all interesting and all revealing of Fuller as she was—shifting, responsive, and ultimately comprehensible only in relation to the people with whom she interacted. The "real Margaret Fuller" is a phantom. What makes her live—and what my biography tries to provide—is Fuller thinking and acting with others. Yet, I should add, acting not just with other individuals. For Fuller's interactions were also with movements—from American Unitarianism to German Romanticism, from women's education to Italian republicanism. "Such a predetermination to eat this big universe as her oyster or her egg, and to be absolute empress of all height and glory in it that her heart could conceive, I have not before seen in any human soul," wrote Thomas Carlyle, who was not exactly an abstemious soul himself.
When properly read, her life presents an illuminating window on these oysters and eggs of her time.

At its deepest level, though, my biography is about Fuller's life as an intellectual. This approach has been shaped by my interest in the American intellectual as a cultural type, of course. But it also seems to me to be dictated by her life itself. Fuller spent most of her waking hours reading, thinking, and writing. Without knowing what she believed, what she argued for, what she conceptualized, what she made into symbols, we cannot possibly know Margaret Fuller. More important, ideas and fantasies of intellectual identity, both of herself and of her culture, were the ruling preoccupations of her life. This truth was no better revealed than in the great moral drama of her life, which the titles of my two volumes are meant to highlight. That was her sudden movement at the beginning of her thirties from a "private" life of family, study, Boston-Cambridge socializing, and anonymous magazine-writing, to the life of a "public" personage, speaking in a commanding, if often complex and ambiguous voice, defining for America the intellectual character of womanhood and, a little later, from the vantage point of New York and Europe, pronouncing on its literary works and on the international political movements of her age. In the space of a few short years, she became America's female intellectual prophet in the mode of her difficult mentors Carlyle and Emerson.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 1, The Private Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life, vol. 1, The Private Years* (Oxford University Press, 1992), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Capper, *Margaret Fuller*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.119

Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years

Charles Capper

SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 251–252 · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Excerpt

Alluding to her theory that the bad drove out the "excellent" by dulling the public's capacity for discerning the difference, Fuller wrote in her review, "Such works as Mr. Longfellow's we consider injurious only if allowed to usurp the place of better things." But what were those "better things"? If the country's older Romantics were fast fading, its sentimentalists mostly wan, and its leading literati not leading, who or what did she look to beneath America's "official" literary culture for the seeds of its later flowering she so confidently predicted? The broadest answer would have to be a Romantically informed literary "democracy." It is true that, given the right provocation, she remained as ready as ever to blast the country's popular culture. (In a review of a grammar book, she blamed the English language's "degradation" on, successively, "uncultivated" immigrants, slang-spewing businessmen, and unrefined housewives.) If one thinks, however, of a literary democrat not as a cheerleader of the given culture but as a critical encourager of avant-garde literary tastes and practices that she hoped would vitalize a potentially popular literature, then the label fit.

Certainly, she knew in a modern capitalist democracy there was no alternative: without princes and nobles to patronize literature and the arts, she said in "American Literature," "here is only the public." She rested her cultural hopes on two current social "symptoms." One was society's current spirit of reform, although, she quickly added, before it could produce poets, it needed to "penetrate beneath the springs of action." The other was the widespread felt need to be "even sternly sincere," not in the later attenuated Victorian sense of honesty or frankness but in the Romantic meaning of integrity or authenticity. "No man can be absolutely true to himself, eschewing cant, compromise, servile imitation, and complaisance," she wrote in one review, "without becoming original, for there is in every creature a fountain of life which, if not choked back by stones and other dead rubbish, will create a fresh atmosphere, and bring to life fresh beauty. And it is the same with the nation as with the individual man."

In short, she assumed what she and Emerson had at the Dial: if individuals would become, unlike Longfellow, authentic observers of life within and without, they would collectively create a "fresh atmosphere" conducive to the birth of an original American literature.

In her "American Literature" essay and several reviews, Fuller also demonstrated what Emerson did not: the democratic possibilities for that prescription in the era's popular print culture. She approached it gingerly. She decried the "system of cheap publication" driven by new print technologies and the piracy of English books, which so reduced royalties that only a handful could afford to practice professional authorship and even those to write only what would immediately sell. She totally ignored lurid reform pamphlets, religious tracts, crime novels, and other texts that literary historians have claimed "subverted" the middleclass literature of sentimentality but that she no doubt would have considered formulaic and (in a favorite word) "vulgar." In one impish article on Congress's recent halving of the postal rate on letters, she tossed out enough skeptical barbs at railroads, itinerant lecturers, and garrulous letter writers to have satisfied the progress-skeptic Thoreau. Yet, unlike mid-twentieth-century critics of mass culture, she was hopeful about mitigating the tendency of the print revolution toward superficiality and conformity.

Like her Young America allies, she thought an international copyright law would raise authors' incomes and so make them more willing to take unconventional risks in their writing. In her survey she also found promise in her new profession as a venue for the "life of intellect." The new electric telegraph gave reporters more time to arrange and

interpret the news, while the need for brevity, rather than just encouraging the rushed and fragmentary, made the newspaper a perfect repository for condensed essays, short stories, and even lyric poetry. Most important, since one could not fully explain or revise, it encouraged sincerity and spontaneity in a new national "conversation." "Newspaper writing is next door to conversation," she explained, "and should be conducted on the same principles. It has this advantage: we address, not our neighbour, who forces us to remember his limitations and prejudices, but the ideal presence of human nature as we feel it ought to be and trust it will be. We address America rather than Americans." Even Emerson would likely have been impressed with that democratic Transcendentalist magic.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 2, The Public Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life: Vol. 2, The Public Years* (Oxford University Press, 2007), 251–252.

Shortened citation:

Capper, *Margaret Fuller*, 251–252.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.120

Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson

David S. Reynolds

SELECTION	Wakinc GIANT
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 262–263 · Supplied edition: Harper, 2008.

Excerpt

numesque freaks, and yellow-covered pulp novels, was known worldwide as a culture of sensationalism, and he wanted to coin literary capital from its perceived wildness. “In literature it is only the wild that attracts us,” he wrote. “Dullness is only another word for tameness.” British literature, he stressed, had no “wild strain. It is an essentially tame and civilized literature.... There was a need for America.” He declared, “America is the she-wolf of to-day.” Elsewhere he wrote, “We must look to the west for a new literature,” predicting that popular expressions “which now look so raw slang-like and colloquial when printed another generation will cherish and affect as genuine and American and standard.” Thoreau developed his mature writing style in response to an American popular culture that feasted on sensations and hungered for curiosities. Thoreau, the hermit who lived on the simplest foods, was perceived by some as one more American oddity. One magazine compared him with P. T. Barnum in a piece called “Town and Rural Humbugs.” Another writer said of Thoreau’s style, “Sometimes strikingly original, sometimes merely eccentric and odd, it is always racy and original.”

James Russell Lowell charged that Thoreau “seeks, at all risks, for perversity of thought.... It is not so much the True that he loves as the Out- of-the-Way. As the Brazen Age shows itself in other men by exaggeration of phrase, so in him by exaggeration of statement.” Reviewers caviled, but it was precisely the sensational or bizarre elements that attracted the popular audience. His idea for Walden came from a lyceum appearance where his audiences were curious about the details of his solitary life in the woods. When he began to lecture about his Walden experience, it was the strange, diverting moments of his talks that were the most popular. His biting “Economy” lecture, commented one magazine, was “sufficiently queer to keep the audience in almost constant mirth.... The performance has created ‘quite a sensation’ among Lyceum goers.” By contrast, a tamer lecture, which became audience.”

When selecting passages from his writings to reprint, periodicals of the day most often chose the freakish or wild passages, such as “I grow savager and savager every day, as if fed on raw meat” or “There is in my nature, methinks, a singular yearning toward all wildness.” As Thoreau revised Walden for publication in the seven years after 1847, he heightened the sensational qualities of his prose. He added shocking images that might fit into the penny press: tortured people taunting loon; the eerie owl hoots; and the passage about wanting to eat a woodchuck raw. He also invited us to laugh at the freakish or theatrical, as when he writes, “We know but few men, a great many coats and breeches,” or “The head monkey at Paris puts on a traveller’s cap, and all the monkeys in America do the same,” or, about the transatlantic telegraph, “perchance the first news that will leak through into the broad, flapping American ear will be that the Princess Adelaide has the whooping cough.” When Walden appeared, several reviewers noted its popular techniques.

One stated flatly, “He coveted readers, and believed that he should have them.” Another explained that he wrote Walden to satisfy “an inquiring public” and that “in the whole course of the book he keeps this audience in mind, goes out to meet it, and by a most conspicuously popular style adapts himself to it.” And to some degree Thoreau satisfied this popular audience. Although Walden was not a best seller, it originally sold over two thousand copies—then a strong sale for a nonfiction volume—and proved popular over time, staying alive for future generations through its prose that absorbed popular images. If the Transcendentalists carried the Democratic ideology toward radical individualism, Hawthorne followed it into metaphysical ambiguity. Born in 1804 in Salem, Massachusetts, Hawthorne was bookish child and went on to attend Bowdoin College from 1823 to 1827. He then entered what he famously called the “dismal chamber” period of literary productivity—a statement that has wrongly led some to say that he was an isolated genius, distanced from his times. He was in fact ev-

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Reynolds, David S. *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson*. New York: Harper, 2008.

Footnote citation:

David S. Reynolds, *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson* (Harper, 2008), 262–263.

Shortened citation:

Reynolds, *Waking Giant*, 262–263.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.121

American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman

F. O. Matthiessen

SELECTION	METHOD AND SCOPE
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Supplied edition: Oxford University Press, 1941.

Excerpt

The phases of my somewhat complex method of elucidating that con¬ crete reality can be briefly described. The great attraction of my subject was its compactness: ^ for though I made no attempt to confine my study of these authors to the strait jacket of a five-year segment of their careers, the fact remained that Emerson's theory of expression was that on which Thoreau built, to which Whitman gave extension, and to which Haw¬ thorne and Melville were indebted by being forced to react against its philosophical assumptions. The nature of Emerson's achievement has caused me to range more widely in my treatment of him than in that of the others. Representative Men has no more right to be called his master¬ piece than Nature (1836) or The Conduct of Life (i860). He wrote no masterpiece, but his service to the development of our literature was enormous in that he made the first full examination of its potentialities. To apply to him his own words about Goethe: he was the cbw from which the rest drew their milk.
My discussion of his theory has always in view his practice of it, and its creative use by the others. My prime intention is not Sainte-Beuve's: to be 'a naturalist of minds,' to relate the authors works to their lives. I have not drawn upon the circumstances of biography unless they seemed essential to place a given piece of writ¬ ing; ^ and whenever necessary, especially in the case of Melville, I have tried to expose the modern fallacy that has come from the vulgarization of Sainte-Beuve's subtle method—the direct reading of an author's per¬ sonal life into his works. The types of interrelation that have seemed most productive to under¬ standing the literature itself were first of all the obvious debts, of Thoreau to Emerson, or Melville to Hawthorne. In the next place there were certain patterns of taste and aspiration; the intimate kinship to the seventeenth-century metaphysical strain that was felt by Emerson, Thoreau, and Melville; the desire for a functional style wherein Thoreau and Whitman especially were forerunners of our modern interest.
That last fact again suggests one of my chief convictions: that works of art can be best perceived if we do not approach them only through the influences that shaped them, but if we also make use of what we inevitably bring from our own lives. That is an unorthodox postulate for literary history. But if we can see Moby-Dicl^ and Pierre much more accurately by un¬ covering Melville's extraordinary debt to Shakespeare, and come closer to Hawthorne's intentions by observing that his psychological assump¬ tions were still fundamentally the same as Milton's, it seems equally clear that Henry James,and Eliot can cast light back on Hawthorne, and that one way of judging Leai/es of Grass is by juxtaposing it with the deliberate counterstatement made by Whitman's polar opposite, Hopkins. I have, therefore, utilized whatever interrelations of this type have seemed to grow organically from my subject. I do not expect the reader to be willing at this point to grant any relevance to the juxtaposition of Whitman with the painters Millet and Eakins, or to that of Thoreau with the theories of the forgotten sculptor Horatio Greenough.
It will be my responsibility to demonstrate those relevances.

The phase of my subject in which I am most interested is its challenge to pass beyond such interrelations to basic formulations about the nature of literature. In the chapter, 'Allegory and Symbolism,' Hawthorne and Melville have been its center, but I have attempted, so far as I was able, to write also an account of these two fundamental modes of apprehending reality. In the concluding chapter, 'Man in the Open Air,' the concern was to bring all five writers together through their subject matter, through their varied responses to the myth of the common man. But these serious responses can be better defined if set into contrast with the comic myth of the frontier, especially in its richest

expression by George Washington

Harris' Sut Lovingood. And the function of myth in literature can be clarified by the rediscovery of its necessity by the age of Joyce and Mann.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Matthiessen, F. O. *American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1941.

Footnote citation:

F. O. Matthiessen, *American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman* (Oxford University Press, 1941), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Matthiessen, *American Renaissance*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.122

Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance

Kenneth S. Sacks

SELECTION	hapter Two
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 21–22 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

/Sd

WHEN THE YOUNG EMERSON STOOD BEFORE AN ASSEMBLAGE of some of the most important intellectual and civic leaders of his day, he was driven by both a desire to achieve self-reliance and, conversely, a deeply felt need to defend himself and friends that would compromise that self-reliance. In responding to this inner conflict, what Emerson did precisely was to offer an entirely new interpretation of what it meant to be an American scholar. It was a problem as old as the United States itself. Coming to a new land, Puritans had hoped to establish a City on the Hill to provide light unto all the nations. With the country's independence, the search only intensified for a literature to match the brilliant political achievement. Phi Beta Kappa, first established at the College of William and Mary in that year of independence, 1776, was originally a forum for contemporary political debate. When the press of politics receded, annual orators spoke instead of the need for the independent American scholar. As a teenager, Emerson had hoped his brother would address the theme in a college essay. Then he assumed the conventional understanding of American scholar as a writer substantially free from European influence. The question became so much the standard fare of the literate class that even in his oration Emerson acknowledged the subject as the expected theme: "I accept the topic which not only usage, but the nature of our association, seem to prescribe to this day,—the American Scholar. Year by year, we come up hither to read one more chapter of his biography."[1]

James Russell Lowell believed that Emerson fully succeeded: "The Puri¬ tan revolt had made us ecclesiastically, and the Revolution politically inde¬ pendent, but we were still socially and intellectually moored to English thought, till Emerson cut the cable and gave us a chance at the dangers and glories of blue water." But how exactly did he cut that cable? Little in the talk pertains to anything specifically American. Nearing his conclu¬ sion, Emerson acknowledged, "I have dwelt perhaps tediously upon this abstraction of the Scholar. I ought not to delay longer to add what I have to say, of nearer reference to the time and to this country." He then recom¬ mended to his audience the study of popular culture, citing as models European writers—Goldsmith, Burns, Cowper, Goethe, Wordsworth, and Carlyle—and following with an odd allusion to the beliefs of Swedish mystic Emanuel Swedenborg. What to Emerson was especially American about the scholar, if so controversial to his audience, had to be far more complex than meets the eye. To a country with a fragile hold on its new identity, it was uncompromisingly iconoclastic. To those in the audience, it was a particularly shattering vision.[2]

A decade before Emerson entered Harvard, the religious environment of the college, growing increasingly liberal and rational during the previ¬ ous seventy-five years, took an even more dramatic turn. After a struggle within the Harvard Corporation, the Hollis Professorship of Divinity was offered in 1805 to Henry Ware, Sr., an anti-Trinitarian and follower of what would soon become known as American Unitarianism. A few years later, Harvard elected a president of the same faith, and by 1831 the Chris¬ tian Examiner could proclaim of Harvard Divinity School: "Now we do not deny, that the Professors of the School are Unitarian; and we rejoice in the fact. We do not deny, that the probability is, that the students will come from the School impressed with the truth of the Unitarian faith. God forbid that it should be otherwise." Because training ministers was still perhaps the most important duty of the university, the rest of the institution followed pretty much in lockstep.[3]

Author's Notes

1. Puritans: David Minter, “The Puritan Jeremiad as a Literary Form,” in The American Puritan Imagination: Essays in Revaluation, ed. Sacvan Bercovitch (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1974), 45. William and Mary: Current, Phi Beta Kappa in American Life, 5-7. Conventional meaning: Bliss Perry, “Emer¬ son’s Most Famous Speech,” in his The Praise of Folly and Other Papers (Boston, Houghton Mifflin, 1923), 81—113, points out that it had “become a standard undergraduate theme.” 1837: AS 132-133. Although clearly having in mind the American scholar (as noted by a contemporary reviewer, William Henry Channing, Boston Quarterly Review [1838]: 110), he entitled the initial version “An Oration, Delivered before the Phi Beta Kappa Society at Cambridge, August 31, 1837.” He renamed it in 1849; see Joel Myerson, “Practical Editions: Ralph Waldo Emerson’s ‘The American Scholar’,” Proof 3 (1973): 380.

2. Lowell, North American Review 1865: 600. AS 142, 144. Theophilus Par¬ sons and Sampson Reed may have been the only Swedenborgians in the audience. John Pierce, Memoirs, vol. 7, 162, MHS, believed there was one Swedenborgian minister among Harvard alumni.

3. Harvard history: William R. Hutchinson, The Transcendentalist Ministers: Church Reform in the New England Renaissance (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1959), 6-12. We do not deny: “Review of Dr. Codman’s Speech in the Board of Overseers of Harvard College, February 3, 1831,” CE 10 (1831), 144.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Kenneth S. Sacks, *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003), 21–22.

Shortened citation:

Sacks, *Understanding Emerson*, 21–22.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.123

Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance

Kenneth S. Sacks

SELECTION	hapter Two
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 21–22 · Supplied edition: Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

/Sd

WHEN THE YOUNG EMERSON STOOD BEFORE AN ASSEMBLAGE of some of the most important intellectual and civic leaders of his day, he was driven by both a desire to achieve self-reliance and, conversely, a deeply felt need to defend himself and friends that would compromise that self-reliance. In responding to this inner conflict, what Emerson did precisely was to offer an entirely new interpretation of what it meant to be an American scholar. It was a problem as old as the United States itself. Coming to a new land, Puritans had hoped to establish a City on the Hill to provide light unto all the nations. With the country's independence, the search only intensified for a literature to match the brilliant political achievement. Phi Beta Kappa, first established at the College of William and Mary in that year of independence, 1776, was originally a forum for contemporary political debate. When the press of politics receded, annual orators spoke instead of the need for the independent American scholar. As a teenager, Emerson had hoped his brother would address the theme in a college essay. Then he assumed the conventional understanding of American scholar as a writer substantially free from European influence. The question became so much the standard fare of the literate class that even in his oration Emerson acknowledged the subject as the expected theme: "I accept the topic which not only usage, but the nature of our association, seem to prescribe to this day,—the American Scholar. Year by year, we come up hither to read one more chapter of his biography."[1]

James Russell Lowell believed that Emerson fully succeeded: "The Puri¬ tan revolt had made us ecclesiastically, and the Revolution politically inde¬ pendent, but we were still socially and intellectually moored to English thought, till Emerson cut the cable and gave us a chance at the dangers and glories of blue water." But how exactly did he cut that cable? Little in the talk pertains to anything specifically American. Nearing his conclu¬ sion, Emerson acknowledged, "I have dwelt perhaps tediously upon this abstraction of the Scholar. I ought not to delay longer to add what I have to say, of nearer reference to the time and to this country." He then recom¬ mended to his audience the study of popular culture, citing as models European writers—Goldsmith, Burns, Cowper, Goethe, Wordsworth, and Carlyle—and following with an odd allusion to the beliefs of Swedish mystic Emanuel Swedenborg. What to Emerson was especially American about the scholar, if so controversial to his audience, had to be far more complex than meets the eye. To a country with a fragile hold on its new identity, it was uncompromisingly iconoclastic. To those in the audience, it was a particularly shattering vision.[2]

A decade before Emerson entered Harvard, the religious environment of the college, growing increasingly liberal and rational during the previ¬ ous seventy-five years, took an even more dramatic turn. After a struggle within the Harvard Corporation, the Hollis Professorship of Divinity was offered in 1805 to Henry Ware, Sr., an anti-Trinitarian and follower of what would soon become known as American Unitarianism. A few years later, Harvard elected a president of the same faith, and by 1831 the Chris¬ tian Examiner could proclaim of Harvard Divinity School: "Now we do not deny, that the Professors of the School are Unitarian; and we rejoice in the fact. We do not deny, that the probability is, that the students will come from the School impressed with the truth of the Unitarian faith. God forbid that it should be otherwise." Because training ministers was still perhaps the most important duty of the university, the rest of the institution followed pretty much in lockstep.[3]

Author's Notes

1. Puritans: David Minter, “The Puritan Jeremiad as a Literary Form,” in The American Puritan Imagination: Essays in Revaluation, ed. Sacvan Bercovitch (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1974), 45. William and Mary: Current, Phi Beta Kappa in American Life, 5-7. Conventional meaning: Bliss Perry, “Emer¬ son’s Most Famous Speech,” in his The Praise of Folly and Other Papers (Boston, Houghton Mifflin, 1923), 81—113, points out that it had “become a standard undergraduate theme.” 1837: AS 132-133. Although clearly having in mind the American scholar (as noted by a contemporary reviewer, William Henry Channing, Boston Quarterly Review [1838]: 110), he entitled the initial version “An Oration, Delivered before the Phi Beta Kappa Society at Cambridge, August 31, 1837.” He renamed it in 1849; see Joel Myerson, “Practical Editions: Ralph Waldo Emerson’s ‘The American Scholar’,” Proof 3 (1973): 380.

2. Lowell, North American Review 1865: 600. AS 142, 144. Theophilus Par¬ sons and Sampson Reed may have been the only Swedenborgians in the audience. John Pierce, Memoirs, vol. 7, 162, MHS, believed there was one Swedenborgian minister among Harvard alumni.

3. Harvard history: William R. Hutchinson, The Transcendentalist Ministers: Church Reform in the New England Renaissance (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1959), 6-12. We do not deny: “Review of Dr. Codman’s Speech in the Board of Overseers of Harvard College, February 3, 1831,” CE 10 (1831), 144.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Footnote citation:

Kenneth S. Sacks, *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003), 21–22.

Shortened citation:

Sacks, *Understanding Emerson*, 21–22.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.124

The Raven and the Whale: The War of Words and Wits in the Era of Poe and Melville

Perry Miller

SELECTION	The Literary Prospects of 1845
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 131–132 · Supplied edition: Harcourt, Brace, 1956.

Excerpt

131 The Literary Prospects of 1845 when the Democratic praised Poe's lecture, and, while mildly de¬ ploring the vehemence of the charge against Longfellow, admired Poe's courage: "It is something for a man to encounter so formidable an opposition in this day of newspapers and public opinion, when the opportunities for the gratification of a whim or prejudice, to say noth¬ ing of malice and disappointed hate, are so ready at hand." Poe may be a harsh critic, often unfair, Duyckinck said, but he will not puff. Thereupon Duyckinck used Poe to proclaim the faith that was in him, on which he fell back as the literary prospects of 1845, like the politi¬ cal, went sour. There is nothing more humiliating or dastardly than to treat literature as a poor, mean, good-natured thing. "It is for the interest of literature that every man who writes should show his hon¬ esty and not bring letters into contempt." If in doing so he becomes rude, "it is better both for the cause of truth and virtue that this should be the case than that a man should be always dull and complaisant." Evert Duyckinck is as tortuous as the others, but the reason he stood so stanchly by Poe, even though loyalty hurt him, is that Poe did, along with his meanness and irresponsibility, incarnate for Duyckinck the dignity of the artist.

Duyckinck also believed that Simms was sincere, in which he was not mistaken, though it led him to exaggerate the performance. All these months Duyckinck steadily boosted Simms through his now numerous columns, while he and Jones contributed to the Southern and Western. As Simms collected pieces for his volume in the Ameri¬ can Library, he returned the compliment: Duyckinck is unique in that of all American critics, "you have a hearty love for the art, unim¬ pressed & uninfluenced by petty prejudices of your own, and a still more petty subserviency to cliquism." The group never seem to have thought that, if they could address each other in this style, from Clark's point of view they made a faction more clique-ish than his. But Clark was not privileged to see the caution Simms felt obliged to add: Duyckinck's habit of reading more than writing would injure him: "The luxury of literature is with you. The care with me." The problem always was whether Duyckinck would, in the moment when action was needed, prove too luxurious for action.

Duyckinck hoped he was displaying the qualities of leadership by a piece in the Democratic Review for May, "On Writing for the Maga¬ zines," which endorsed Poe's thesis that the magazine rather than the book is the form best suited to this age, and boldly encouraged magazine writers not to be afraid of "egotism"—that is, writing in the first person. "What is genius but this secret spring of egotism?" The piece ends with another plea for fraternity among writers. Simms, in all affection, thought it too cursory; actually, the Knickerbocker for that month almost stole all the thunder of Young America with "Neces¬ sity for a National Literature," which was Clark's idea of how the patriotic appeal should be managed. This also declaims against cor¬ ruption by European imports, but on the moral ground that they bring in "foreign licentiousness and immorality." If we Americans do not have a traditional lore, we still have a great people, a short but •crowded history; our writers should record our "struggles against evil." The unspoken point was clear: one of the evils America must overcome is Edgar Poe.

Clark had proof of that in June. Dr. Thomas Chivers, in New York to publish The Lost Pleiad, his bid for sharing with Simms the title of chief Southern writer, found Poe drunk in Nassau Street, and was taking him home to 195 East Broadway when they met Clark, whom Poe tried to assault. That was not helping Duyckinck, but a worse blow was an article in the American Review in that very month; it was by E. W. Johnson, entitled "American Letters—Their Character and Advancement," and though Colton prefaced it with a notice that he did not entirely agree, he did print

a piece which is decidedly a conservative's attack on Young America. Our literature is a poor thing, but do these nativists, asked Johnson, have any idea of the new literature they call for? "Do they mean a new body and mode of thought? or a new vehicle, a new dialect, for the old ideas? Is the change to arise out of a greater refinement and cultivation? or is it, on the contrary, to spring from a return to simplicity—a banishment of artificial forms of fife?" These were shattering questions. Young America were compelled to face an issue they had no way of facing: what specifically would constitute that literature, greater than Shake¬ speare's, they supposed they were creating? "What is to create it, or wherein it is to consist, they have by no means given themselves the trouble to inquire. All they really mean is that American writers will live in America; if they want something really native, let them con¬ sider the Ethiopian Minstrels: let them hold up as the national symbol not Behemoth but Jim Crow!

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Miller, Perry. *The Raven and the Whale: The War of Words and Wits in the Era of Poe and Melville*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1956.

Footnote citation:

Perry Miller, *The Raven and the Whale: The War of Words and Wits in the Era of Poe and Melville* (Harcourt, Brace, 1956), 131–132.

Shortened citation:

Miller, *The Raven and the Whale*, 131–132.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.125

American Transcendentalism: A History

Philip F. Gura

SELECTION	American Transcendentalism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 74–75 · Supplied edition: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Excerpt

In 1837 Ripley wrote George Bancroft, a prominent member of the Democratic Party, that with such men as Brownson he "hoped to see the time, when religion, philosophy & politics will be united in a Holy Trinity, for the redemption & blessedness of our social insti¬ tutions."^^ Through Ripley's efforts, Brownson soon was presented with just such an opportunity—to replace Joseph Tuckerman as minister at large to Boston's poor. Chafing under a low salary and the needs of an ever-growing family, and lobbied heavily by Unitar¬ ian friends in the city, Brownson accepted. In the summer of 1836, the year of Harvard's bicentennial and the Transcendental Club's first meeting, he moved his family to Chelsea, near the center of the Unitarian universe. "I am trying to democratize religion and philosophy," he wrote Bancroft.Now he walked shoulder to shoulder with other liberal Christians who derived from Romantic philosophy and religion the impetus to reinvigorate their faith and work toward a realization of more democratic ideals.

In these years Brownson was not easy to miss. He was imposing, over six feet tall and broad-shouldered, his black hair brushed straight back without a part. He had hazel-brown eyes, a long up¬ per lip, and hands in proportion to his large frame. Particularly dis¬ tinctive was a swallov^ail coat, worn "at all hours of the day, even in his study." A powerful speaker, to some he was abrasive; to others, uncouth; and to some, who feared his social radicalism, downright intimidating. His regimen was Spartan: he frequently worked until three in the morning, ate little (but drank strong coffee all day long), and at a time when temperance was in the air, already had sworn total abstinence. His only noted vice, besides being cantan¬ kerous, was chewing tobacco.

His intellect was just as striking. Although he had never at¬ tended college, making him unusual among his fellow Unitarian ministers, he read Latin, French, and German and had a seemingly boundless appetite for works on religion and philosophy. He also wrote prodigiously. When he did not have enough copy for an is¬ sue of his Boston Quarterly Review, he dashed off articles and re¬ views (even of his own works), frequently filling an entire issue and thus lending an ironic justness to the journal's subsequent name.

Brownson's Quarterly Review}"^ His collected works, far from com¬ plete, comprise twenty volurnes. His friend Isaac Hecker put it baldly: Brownson, he recalled, "was routine in nothing.

He had one other distinguishing characteristic. As the conserva¬ tive Trinitarian clergyman Noah Porter wrote, Brownson was "man¬ ifestly and avowedly in a state of continual transition,—in a certain condition of perpetually becomingly but of never bein£f7^^^ But al¬ though he may have been, by his own account, "mercurial" in in¬ tellectual matters, he never wavered in his vocation. His was one long attempt to realize a social harmony he had never been fortu¬ nate enough to know, and particularly to provide the laboring classes with the education and ministry they needed to better their lot. This devotion to bringing the kingdom of God to earth is what convinced Ripley and his friends that the Canton minister, born and raised on society's margins and yet versed in the same Continental philosophy that captivated them, should succeed Tuckerman as minister at large to Boston's poor.^^

In Ripley, Brownson found a soul mate. Later in life, long after he had broken with the Transcendentalists, he testified to his friend's influence. "In the formation of my mind," Brownson wrote, "in sys¬ tematizing my ideas, and in general development and culture, I owe more to him than to any other man among Protestants." Brownson concluded, "I loved him as I loved no other man."^^ In 1836 these two were the de facto field generals of the emergent Transcendentalist movement, popularizing Idealist thought through their seminal publications and applying it to pressing social needs. Despite Fred¬ eric Hedge's introduction of European philosophy to readers of

The

Christian Examinery for example, in Bangor, he was too distant to exercise any concerted influence on his peers. Convers Francis, de¬ spite his presence at the Transcendentalist Club's early meetings, was only a fellow traveler in Transcendentalist circles.His good friend, Theodore Parker, eventually a lion among the group, was still at di¬ vinity school. Waldo Emerson, another promising foot soldier, had few publications to his credit and none with the intellectual heft of Ripley's or Brownson's essays in The Christian Examiner.

Accepting his new position, Brownson lost little time in making himself heard. What he said, both in journals and from the pulpit.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Gura, Philip F. *American Transcendentalism: A History*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Footnote citation:

Philip F. Gura, *American Transcendentalism: A History* (Hill and Wang, 2007), 74–75.

Shortened citation:

Gura, *American Transcendentalism*, 74–75.

CHAPTER 12 · SECONDARY SOURCE S12.126

The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America

Sacvan Bercovitch

SELECTION	Rites of Assent
SOURCE LOCATOR	Printed pages 38–39 · Supplied edition: Routledge, 1992.

Excerpt

In other words, the Whig leaders brought the violence of revolution under control by making revolution a controlling meta¬ phor for national identity. In a sense this was simply the product of anticolonial struggle. The rhetoric that prepared the colonists for revolution provided their leaders with a vehicle of social con¬ trol: the pattern has become so familiar as to seem a condition of modern nationalism. What distinguishes the American revolution within this pattern is the rhetorical mode it brought to fruition. When the patriot Whigs expanded the concept of the errand into an apologia for independence, they gave full and final sanction to the ideology of consensus. Once and for all, the errand took on a special, self-enclosed American form. Independence from England completed the separation of the New World from the Old. Hence¬ forth, Americans could direct the process of migration toward its proper goal, the conquest of a continent. Independence became the norm for representative selfhood: independence of mind, inde¬ pendence of means, and these twin blessings, sacred and secular, the mirror of a rising nation—what could better demonstrate the bond of personal and social identity? Elsewhere, to be independent was to challenge society. In the United States, it was to be a model of consensus. Above all, independence gave a distinctive national shape to the idea of progress. The sacred origin was the Puritan migration; the telos was the Revolution. Drawing out the logic of the errand to a point undreamed of by their forebears, the patriot Whigs announced that the long-awaited apocalyptic moment had arrived on July 4, 1776.

It took another generation or so before all the details could be worked out—before Washington could be enshrined as savior, his apostles ranked, the Judas in their midst identified, and the Declaration of Independence adequately compared to the Sermon on the Mount. But the ritual plot, the narrative frame of the ideology of errand, had at last found its focus. With the revolution, the Puritan vision flowered into the myth of America. For the errand itself was rooted in biblical myth. However eccentric their interpretations, the Puritans had relied on the authority of scrip¬ ture. No matter how flagrantly they distorted sacred history to justify their experience, they were appealing, finally, to Christian tradition. The Revolutionary Whigs took the justification, rather than the tradition behind it, as their authority. No matter how piously they invoked scripture they were appealing not to Chris¬ tian tradition, but to the series of recent events through which they defined the American experience. Their symbology centered on the act of migration; their text was the progress from theocracy to republic; their source of prophecy was the pilgrimage of the representative American.

The story they told was broadcast through the land every July Fourth, the high holy day of American civil religion. A new era, so the story went, had begun with the discovery of the New World, and the Revolution confirmed it, as Christ had confirmed the new era of faith. In both cases, the event was at once definitive and heuristic. Christ had invoked the authority of the prophets, but it was His mission that verified their prophecies. Such too was the relation between Old and New Israel. As the patriot spokesmen put it, the Revolution "is indissolubly linked with the Redeemer's mission." It is "the wonder and the blessing of the world," the moment "from which the new order of things is to be reckoned," the epoch-making "accomplishment of all... the great events, designed from eternal ages" to "promote the perfection and happi¬ ness of mankind." "Here, from the analogy of reason and provi¬ dence, we can expect God's greatest works." With the Revolution, God has shown that "The UNITED STATES OF AMERICA are to be His vineyard"—"the principal Seat of [His] glorious king¬ dom"—wherein the promises of the past "are to be brought to harvest," for "the benefit of the whole world."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Bercovitch, Sacvan. *The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America*. New York: Routledge, 1992.

Footnote citation:

Sacvan Bercovitch, *The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America* (Routledge, 1992), 38–39.

Shortened citation:

Bercovitch, *The Rites of Assent*, 38–39.

Bibliography

Each represented supplied monograph appears once. Works cited only in historians' notes are not included here.

Anbinder, Tyler. *Nativism and Slavery: The Northern Know Nothings and the Politics of the 1850s*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Anderson, Quentin. *The Imperial Self: An Essay in American Literary and Cultural History*. New York: Knopf, 1971.

Aptheker, Herbert. *American Negro Slave Revolts*. New York: International Publishers, 1983. First published 1943 by Columbia University Press.

Balogh, Brian. *A Government Out of Sight: The Mystery of National Authority in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Banner, Stuart. *How the Indians Lost Their Land: Law and Power on the Frontier*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2005.

Baptist, Edward E. *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism*. New York: Basic Books, 2014.

Barnes, Gilbert Hobbs. *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844*. New York: D. Appleton-Century, 1933.

Bateman, Fred, and Thomas Weiss. *A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1981.

Baumgartner, Alice L. *South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Beckert, Sven, and Seth Rockman, eds. *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Beckert, Sven. *Empire of Cotton: A Global History*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2014.

Bemis, Samuel Flagg. *John Quincy Adams and the Foundations of American Foreign Policy*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1949.

Bercovitch, Sacvan. *The Rites of Assent: Transformations in the Symbolic Construction of America*. New York: Routledge, 1992.

Berlin, Ira. *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Berlin, Ira. *Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998.

Billington, Ray Allen. *The Protestant Crusade, 1800–1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism*. New York: Macmillan, 1938.

Blassingame, John W. *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South*. Rev. ed. New York: Oxford University Press, 1979.

Blight, David W. *Frederick Douglass: Prophet of Freedom*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2018.

Bolton, Charles C. *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1994.

Bordewich, Fergus M. *Bound for Canaan: The Epic Story of the Underground Railroad, America's First Civil Rights Movement*. New York: Amistad, 2005.

Braude, Ann. *Radical Spirits: Spiritualism and Women's Rights in Nineteenth-Century America*. Boston: Beacon Press, 1989.

Braude, Ann. *Sisters and Saints: Women and American Religion*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Brekus, Catherine A. *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740-1845*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

Brooks, Corey M. *Liberty Power: Antislavery Third Parties and the Transformation of American Politics*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2016.

Browning, Andrew H. *The Panic of 1819: The First Great Depression*. Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2019.

Burns, Eric. *The Spirits of America: A Social History of Alcohol*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2004.

Burstein, Andrew. *The Passions of Andrew Jackson*. New York: Knopf, 2003.

Camp, Stephanie M. H. *Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 1, The Private Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.

Capper, Charles. Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life. Vol. 2, The Public Years. New York: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Chandler, Alfred D., Jr. *The Visible Hand: The Managerial Revolution in American Business*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1977.

Cheathem, Mark R. *Andrew Jackson, Southerner*. Southern Biography Series. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2013.

Clark, Christopher. *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780–1860*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Clarke, Erskine. *Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2005.

Clinton, Catherine. *The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1982.

Cole, Donald B. *Martin Van Buren and the American Political System*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1984.

Cole, Donald B. *The Presidency of Andrew Jackson*. American Presidency Series. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1993.

Cox, Thomas H. *Gibbons v. Ogden, Law, and Society in the Early Republic*. Athens: Ohio University Press, 2009.

Cross, Whitney R. *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1950.

Cunningham, Noble E., Jr. *The Presidency of James Monroe*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Dalzell, Robert F., Jr. *Enterprising Elite: The Boston Associates and the World They Made*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1987.

Dangerfield, George. *The Era of Good Feelings*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1952.

Dawley, Alan. *Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1976.

Delano, Sterling F. *Brook Farm: The Dark Side of Utopia*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2004.

Dillon, Merton L. *The Abolitionists: The Growth of a Dissenting Minority*. DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1974.

Dilts, James D. *The Great Road: The Building of the Baltimore and Ohio, the Nation's First Railroad, 1828–1853*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1993.

Dublin, Thomas. *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1979.

DuBois, Ellen Carol. *Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848-1869*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1978.

Edel, Charles N. *Nation Builder: John Quincy Adams and the Grand Strategy of the Republic*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2014.

Egerton, Douglas R. *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1993.

Egerton, Douglas R. *He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey*. Madison, WI: Madison House, 1999.

Ehle, John. *Trail of Tears: The Rise and Fall of the Cherokee Nation*. New York: Doubleday, 1988.

Elkins, Stanley M. *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1959.

Ellis, Richard E. *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights, and the Nullification Crisis*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Eslinger, Ellen. *Citizens of Zion: The Social Origins of Camp Meeting Revivalism*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1999.

Fehrenbacher, Don E. *The Slaveholding Republic: An Account of the United States Government's Relations to Slavery*. Completed and edited by Ward M. McAfee. New York: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Feldberg, Michael. *The Philadelphia Riots of 1844: A Study of Ethnic Conflict*. Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 1975.

Feldberg, Michael. *The Turbulent Era: Riot & Disorder in Jacksonian America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1980.

Feller, Daniel. *The Jacksonian Promise: America, 1815-1840*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Fitz, Caitlin. *Our Sister Republics: The United States in an Age of American Revolutions*. New York: Liveright, 2016.

Fogel, Robert William, and Stanley L. Engerman. *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1974.

Foner, Eric. *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1970.

Foner, Eric. *Gateway to Freedom: The Hidden History of the Underground Railroad*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2015.

Foner, Philip S., ed. *The Factory Girls: A Collection of Writings on Life and Struggles in the New England Factories of the 1840's*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1977.

Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Fox-Genovese, Elizabeth. *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Franklin, John Hope, and Loren Schweninger. *Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Fredrickson, George M. *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Fredrickson, George M. *The Inner Civil War: Northern Intellectuals and the Crisis of the Union*. New York: Harper & Row, 1965.

Freehling, William W. *Prelude to Civil War: The Nullification Controversy in South Carolina, 1816-1836*. New York: Harper & Row, 1966.

Garrison, Tim Alan. *The Legal Ideology of Removal: The Southern Judiciary and the Sovereignty of Native American Nations*. Athens: University of Georgia Press, 2002.

Genovese, Eugene D. *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South*. 2nd ed. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860*. Columbia: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Ginzberg, Lori D. *Women and the Work of Benevolence: Morality, Politics, and Class in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1990.

Goodrich, Carter. *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1960.

Gougeon, Len. *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform*. Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1990.

Griffin, Clifford S. *Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865*. New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press, 1960.

Grodzins, Dean. *American Heretic: Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Gross, Robert A. *The Transcendentalists and Their World*. New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2021.

Gunther, Gerald, ed. *John Marshall's Defense of McCulloch v. Maryland*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1969.

Gura, Philip F. *American Transcendentalism: A History*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2007.

Gutman, Herbert G. *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1976.

Hammond, Bray. *Banks and Politics in America from the Revolution to the Civil War*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1957.

Hammond, John Craig, and Matthew Mason, eds. *Contesting Slavery: The Politics of Bondage and Freedom in the New American Nation*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2011.

Hammond, John Craig. *Slavery, Freedom, and Expansion in the Early American West*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2007.

Handlin, Oscar, and Mary Flug Handlin. *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861*. Rev. ed. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1969.

Harris, J. William. *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Hartz, Louis. *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1948.

Hewitt, Nancy A. *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822-1872*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984.

Heyrman, Christine Leigh. *Southern Cross: The Beginnings of the Bible Belt*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1997.

Hill, Forest G. *Roads, Rails & Waterways: The Army Engineers and Early Transportation*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1957.

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Chief Justice: John Marshall and the Rule of Law*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 1996.

Hobson, Charles F. *The Great Yazoo Lands Sale: The Case of Fletcher v. Peck*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2016.

Hodges, Graham Russell Gao. *Slavery, Freedom, and Culture among Early American Workers*. Armonk, NY: M. E. Sharpe, 1998.

Hofstadter, Richard. *The American Political Tradition and the Men Who Made It*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1948.

Holden, Vanessa M. *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Holt, Michael F. *The Rise and Fall of the American Whig Party: Jacksonian Politics and the Onset of the Civil War*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Horwitz, Morton J. *The Transformation of American Law, 1780-1860*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1977.

Howe, Daniel Walker. *The Political Culture of the American Whigs*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1979.

Hurst, James Willard. *Law and the Conditions of Freedom in the Nineteenth-Century United States*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1956.

Ignatiev, Noel. *How the Irish Became White*. New York: Routledge, 1995.

Inskeep, Steve. *Jacksonland: President Andrew Jackson, Cherokee Chief John Ross, and a Great American Land Grab*. New York: Penguin Press, 2015.

Irwin, Douglas A. *Clashing over Commerce: A History of US Trade Policy*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2017.

Jeffrey, Julie Roy. *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998.

John, Richard R. *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1995.

Johnson, Paul E. *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1978.

Johnson, Walter. *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Johnson, Walter. *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Jones, Martha S. *All Bound Up Together: The Woman Question in African American Public Culture, 1830-1900*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2007.

Jones, Martha S. *Vanguard: How Black Women Broke Barriers, Won the Vote, and Insisted on Equality for All*. New York: Basic Books, 2020.

Jones-Rogers, Stephanie E. *They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2019.

Kaestle, Carl F. *Pillars of the Republic: Common Schools and American Society, 1780-1860*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1983.

Kennon, Donald R., ed. *A Republic for the Ages: The United States Capitol and the Political Culture of the Early Republic*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1999.

Keyssar, Alexander. *The Right to Vote: The Contested History of Democracy in the United States*. Rev. ed. New York: Basic Books, 2009.

Killenbeck, Mark R. *M'Culloch v. Maryland: Securing a Nation*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2006.

Klotter, James C. *Henry Clay: The Man Who Would Be President*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Koeppel, Gerard. *Bond of Union: Building the Erie Canal and the American Empire*. Cambridge, MA: Da Capo Press, 2009.

Kolchin, Peter. *American Slavery, 1619-1877*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2003.

Krauthamer, Barbara. *Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Kulikoff, Allan. *The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1992.

Kupchan, Charles A. *Isolationism: A History of America's Efforts to Shield Itself from the World*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2020.

Langguth, A. J. *Driven West: Andrew Jackson and the Trail of Tears to the Civil War*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 2010.

Larson, John Lauritz. *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Larson, John Lauritz. *The Market Revolution in America: Liberty, Ambition, and the Eclipse of the Common Good*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Laurie, Bruce. *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980.

Leonard, Gerald. *The Invention of Party Politics: Federalism, Popular Sovereignty, and Constitutional Development in Jacksonian Illinois*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Lepler, Jessica M. *The Many Panics of 1837: People, Politics, and the Creation of a Transatlantic Financial Crisis*. New York: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Lerner, Gerda. *The Grimké Sisters from South Carolina: Pioneers for Women's Rights and Abolition*. Rev. and expanded ed. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Levine, Bruce. *The Spirit of 1848: German Immigrants, Labor Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1992.

Levine, Lawrence W. *Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1977.

Lightner, David L. *Slavery and the Commerce Power: How the Struggle against the Interstate Slave Trade Led to the Civil War*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Magliocca, Gerard N. *Andrew Jackson and the Constitution: The Rise and Fall of Generational Regimes*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2007.

Majewski, John. *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Mason, Matthew. *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006.

Masur, Kate. *Until Justice Be Done: America's First Civil Rights Movement, from the Revolution to Reconstruction*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2021.

Matthiessen, F. O. *American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1941.

May, Ernest R. *The Making of the Monroe Doctrine*. Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1975.

Mayer, Henry. *All on Fire: William Lloyd Garrison and the Abolition of Slavery*. New York: St. Martin's Press, 1998.

McCormick, Richard P. *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1966.

McCurry, Stephanie. *Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1995.

Meacham, Jon. *American Lion: Andrew Jackson in the White House*. New York: Random House, 2008.

Merritt, Keri Leigh. *Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Miles, Tiya. *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom*. 2nd ed. Oakland: University of California Press, 2015.

Miller, Kerby A. *Emigrants and Exiles: Ireland and the Irish Exodus to North America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1985.

Miller, Perry. *The Raven and the Whale: The War of Words and Wits in the Era of Poe and Melville*. New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1956.

Moore, Glover. *The Missouri Controversy, 1819-1821*. Lexington: University of Kentucky Press, 1953.

Morris, Charles R. *The Dawn of Innovation: The First American Industrial Revolution*. New York: PublicAffairs, 2012.

Mulkern, John R. *The Know-Nothing Party in Massachusetts: The Rise and Fall of a People's Movement*. Boston: Northeastern University Press, 1990.

Murphy, Teresa Anne. *Ten Hours' Labor: Religion, Reform, and Gender in Early New England*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1992.

Naylor, Celia E. *African Cherokees in Indian Territory: From Chattel to Citizens*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2008.

Newman, Louise Michele. *White Women's Rights: The Racial Origins of Feminism in the United States*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1999.

Newman, Richard S. *The Transformation of American Abolitionism: Fighting Slavery in the Early Republic*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002.

Newmyer, R. Kent. *John Marshall and the Heroic Age of the Supreme Court*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2001.

Norgren, Jill. *The Cherokee Cases: Two Landmark Federal Decisions in the Fight for Sovereignty*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2004.

Oakes, James. *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1982.

Owsley, Frank Lawrence. *Plain Folk of the Old South*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1949.

Parsons, Lynn Hudson. *The Birth of Modern Politics: Andrew Jackson, John Quincy Adams, and the Election of 1828*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

Pasley, Jeffrey L. *"The Tyranny of Printers": Newspaper Politics in the Early American Republic*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 2001.

Peart, Daniel. *Era of Experimentation: American Political Practices in the Early Republic*. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2014.

Perdue, Theda, and Michael D. Green. *The Cherokee Nation and the Trail of Tears*. Penguin Library of American Indian History. New York: Viking, 2007.

Perkins, Dexter. *The Monroe Doctrine, 1823-1826*. Harvard Historical Studies 29. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1927.

Pessen, Edward. *Most Uncommon Jacksonians: The Radical Leaders of the Early Labor Movement*. Albany: State University of New York Press, 1967.

Peterson, Merrill D. *Olive Branch and Sword: The Compromise of 1833*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1982.

Peterson, Merrill D. *The Great Triumvirate: Webster, Clay, and Calhoun*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1987.

Prucha, Francis Paul. *The Great Father: The United States Government and the American Indians*. 2 vols. Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1984.

Quarles, Benjamin. *Black Abolitionists*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1969.

Rasmussen, Daniel. *American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt*. New York: Harper, 2011.

Ratcliffe, Donald J. *The One-Party Presidential Contest: Adams, Jackson, and 1824's Five-Horse Race*. Lawrence: University Press of Kansas, 2015.

Remini, Robert V. Andrew Jackson and His Indian Wars. New York: Viking, 2001.

Remini, Robert V. *Andrew Jackson and the Bank War: A Study in the Growth of Presidential Power*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1967.

Remini, Robert V. *Daniel Webster: The Man and His Time*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1997.

Remini, Robert V. *Martin Van Buren and the Making of the Democratic Party*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1959.

Remini, Robert V. *The Election of Andrew Jackson*. Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1963.

Reynolds, David S. *Waking Giant: America in the Age of Jackson*. New York: Harper, 2008.

Richards, Leonard L. *The Slave Power: The Free North and Southern Domination, 1780-1860*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2000.

Riley, Padraig. *Slavery and the Democratic Conscience: Political Life in Jeffersonian America*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Roberts, Alasdair. *America's First Great Depression: Economic Crisis and Political Disorder after the Panic of 1837*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2012.

Rockman, Seth. *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Roediger, David R. *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class*. London: Verso, 1991.

Rogin, Michael Paul. *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjugation of the American Indian*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1975.

Rose, Anne C. *Transcendentalism as a Social Movement, 1830-1850*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1981.

Rothbard, Murray N. *The Panic of 1819: Reactions and Policies*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1962.

Rothman, David J. *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1971.

Rothman, Joshua D. *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America*. New York: Basic Books, 2021.

Ryan, Mary P. *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: "The American Scholar" and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Sacks, Kenneth S. *Understanding Emerson: The American Scholar and His Struggle for Self-Reliance*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2003.

Satz, Ronald N. *American Indian Policy in the Jacksonian Era*. Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 2002.

Saunt, Claudio. *Unworthy Republic: The Dispossession of Native Americans and the Road to Indian Territory*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2020.

Saxton, Alexander. *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America*. London: Verso, 1990.

Schermerhorn, Calvin. *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2015.

Schlesinger, Arthur M., Jr. *The Age of Jackson*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1945.

Schultz, Nancy Lusignan. *Fire & Roses: The Burning of the Charlestown Convent, 1834*. New York: Free Press, 2000.

Scott, Anne Firor. *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1970.

Sewell, Richard H. *Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837-1860*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1976.

Sexton, Jay. *The Monroe Doctrine: Empire and Nation in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Hill and Wang, 2011.

Sheriff, Carol. *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1996.

Sinha, Manisha. *The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000.

Sinha, Manisha. *The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 2016.

Spencer, Benjamin T. *The Quest for Nationality: An American Literary Campaign*. Syracuse, NY: Syracuse University Press, 1957.

Stansell, Christine. *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986.

Stewart, James Brewer. *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Stites, Francis N. *Private Interest & Public Gain: The Dartmouth College Case, 1819*. Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.

Stokes, Melvyn, and Stephen Conway, eds. *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880*. Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1996.

Tadman, Michael. *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South*. Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Taussig, F. W. *The Tariff History of the United States*. 6th ed. New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1910.

Taussig, F. W. *The Tariff History of the United States*. 8th rev. ed. New York: Capricorn Books, 1964.

Taylor, George Rogers. *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860*. Economic History of the United States 4. New York: Rinehart, 1951.

Temin, Peter. *The Jacksonian Economy*. New York: W. W. Norton, 1969.

Tetrault, Lisa. *The Myth of Seneca Falls: Memory and the Women's Suffrage Movement, 1848-1898*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2014.

Tyler, Alice Felt. *Freedom's Ferment: Phases of American Social History from the Colonial Period to the Outbreak of the Civil War*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1944.

Van Atta, John R. *Wolf by the Ears: The Missouri Crisis, 1819-1821*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2015.

Von Frank, Albert J. *The Trials of Anthony Burns: Freedom and Slavery in Emerson's Boston*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1998.

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *Rockdale: The Growth of an American Village in the Early Industrial Revolution*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1978.

Wallace, Anthony F. C. *The Long, Bitter Trail: Andrew Jackson and the Indians*. New York: Hill and Wang, 1993.

Walters, Ronald G. *American Reformers, 1815-1860*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 1997.

Watson, Harry L. *Andrew Jackson vs. Henry Clay: Democracy and Development in Antebellum America*. Boston: Bedford/St. Martin's, 1998.

Watson, Harry L. *Liberty and Power: The Politics of Jacksonian America*. Updated ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2006.

Weeks, William Earl. *John Quincy Adams and American Global Empire*. Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1992.

Whitaker, Arthur Preston. *The United States and the Independence of Latin America, 1800-1830*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins Press, 1941.

White, Deborah Gray. Ar'n't I a Woman? Female Slaves in the Plantation South. Rev. ed. New York: W. W. Norton, 1999.

White, G. Edward. *The Marshall Court and Cultural Change, 1815-35*. With the aid of Gerald Gunther. History of the Supreme Court of the United States, vols. 3-4. New York: Macmillan, 1988.

Widmer, Ted. *Martin Van Buren*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Wilentz, Sean. *Andrew Jackson*. New York: Times Books, 2005.

Wilentz, Sean. *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788–1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1984.

Wilentz, Sean. *No Property in Man: Slavery and Antislavery at the Nation's Founding*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2018.

Wilentz, Sean. *The Rise of American Democracy: Jefferson to Lincoln*. New York: W. W. Norton, 2005.

Wyatt-Brown, Bertram. *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1982.

Yee, Shirley J. *Black Women Abolitionists: A Study in Activism, 1828-1860*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1992.

Zonderman, David A. *Aspirations and Anxieties: New England Workers and the Mechanized Factory System, 1815-1850*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1992.